Syllabus Template for MA(ENGLISH LANGUGAGE AND LITERATURE)

Program Code:ENGYVU

# YOGI VEMANA UNIVERSITY

Vemanapuram,Kadapa-516 005, A.P.,INDIA

(NAAC Accreditation 'B' Grade with CGPA 2.54) http://www.yvu.edu.in/ NIRF Ranking -2020 in the band of 101-150

## Based on National Education Policy (NEP)-2020

(With effect from the Academic Year 2021-2022)

| Program Educational Objectives (PEOs) | | |
|---|---|---|
| PEO1 | POETRY | ➢ To introduce the students to the important themes in poetry fourteenth century to eighteenth century through the prescribed study.<br>➢ To acquaint the student with the nature of Poetical Works in particular.<br>➢ To discuss various topics relevant to a study of the poetry. |
| PEO2 | DRAMA | ➢ After going through the prescribed text students will be able to understand a brief account of dramatic personality and the outline of the plots prescribed study.<br>➢ After going through the prescribed text students will be able to understand themes motifs and symbols of the prescribed text.<br>➢ After going through the prescribed text students will be able to understand critical analysis of the prescribed plays. |
| PEO3 | FICTION | ➢ After going through the prescribed text students will be able to understand to study the conditions of the sensibility in the novels<br>➢ To study the characterization from an ironic point of view.<br>➢ To study the narrative plot. To study the sturdy rich yet fateful Agrarian background of narratives.<br>➢ To study the historical background of war and aesthetic background. |

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| PEO 4 | INTRODUCTION TO LINGUISTICS AND PHONETICS | ➢ Comprehension about features of language.<br>➢ Distinction between Animal & Human Communication.<br>➢ Awareness about linguistics and its scope.<br>➢ Insights on Diachronic & Synchronic Study Influences.<br>➢ Understanding about influences in English Language and Varieties of English.<br>➢ Awareness on Prosodic Features.<br>➢ Comprehension about important Morphological Operations. |
| POE 5 | WORLD CLASSICS IN ENGLISH TRANSLATION | ➢ To introduce students to the World's best classics in translations.<br>➢ To generate a broad vision of life by making the students to come to grips with universal problems and varied life situations.<br>➢ To make the students to have a feel of excel classics in translations various genres – poetry, fiction, short stories and drama- by a judicious selection.<br>➢ It should instil in the students a spirit of enquiry and further exploration. |
| PEO 6 | PROSE | ➢ To develop the imagination and fancy of the students.<br>➢ To acquaints the students with the style of the writer.<br>➢ To develop their love for natural objects.<br>➢ To develop their aesthetic sense.<br>➢ To develop the habit of thinking among the students. |
| PEO 7 | SHORT STORY | ➢ Identify key points in stories.<br>➢ Summarize the events of a story in a concise manner.<br>➢ Organize key points of stories into chronological action categories.<br>➢ Develop an original narrative in a collaborative manner.<br>➢ Compare the plot structures of multiple stories. |
| PEO 8 | ENGLISH PROFICIENCY COURSE | ➢ The subject keeps in view the students from vernacular medium institutions.<br>➢ The Subject offers an in depth analysis of vocabulary building and sentence structure.<br>➢ To get the students acquainted with the lab and make them workout exercises for each unit. |
| PEO 9 | VALUE BASED EDUCATION | ➢ Traditionally the objectives of value-education were based on religion and philosophy.<br>➢ There was no secular value-education; but in today's modern world, this has been taken as very much essential. |

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| | | ➢ Full development of child's personality in its physical, mental, emotional and spiritual aspects.<br>➢ Inculcation of good manners and of responsible and cooperative citizenship.<br>➢ Developing respect for the dignity of individual and society.<br>➢ Inculcation of a spirit of patriotism and national integration.<br>➢ Developing a democratic way of thinking and living. |
| PEO 10 | ENGLISH LANGUAGE TEACHING | ➢ Aware of the distinction between language acquisition and language learning.<br>➢ Knowing about the problems of teaching English as a Second Language and gaining insights on current trends in ELT.<br>➢ Familiarized about certain theories of language learning and methods of ELT.<br>➢ Gaining comprehension about approaches of Teaching LSRW skills, poetry and prose.<br>➢ Familiar about materials of teaching and learning English.<br>➢ Conversant with the aspects involved in CALT and CALL. |
| PEO 11 | SOCIO-LINGUISTICS | ➢ To gain insights on role and scope of Socio Linguistics as an important branch of study.<br>➢ To obtain awareness and understanding on the pioneering concepts put forth by significant theorists.<br>➢ To develop understanding about language communities and a few important practices related to sociolinguistics.<br>➢ To create understanding on the role of language teacher and pedagogical transactions involved in language teaching. |
| PEO12 | COMMUNICATION AND SOFT SKILLS | ➢ To enhance the learner's communication skills by giving adequate exposure in LSRW listening, speaking, reading and writing skills and the related sub-skills.<br>➢ To help the learners recognize and operate in various styles and registers in English.<br>➢ To help the learner get rid of his present flaws and mistakes in pronunciation and grammar.<br>➢ To help the learner identify and repair the voids in his present vocabulary and pronunciation targeting those specific array of words which create a barrier in his thought process. |

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| | | ➢ To impart better writing skills by sensitizing the learners to the dynamics of effective writing.<br>➢ To build up the learners confidence in oral and interpersonal communication by reinforcing the basics of pronunciation specially focusing on interviews / corporate meetings / international business travels.<br>➢ Enabling the learner to achieve adequate linguistic skills to help him compete international certification tests of English such as IELTS and TOEFL. |
| PEO13 | ESSENTIAL COMMUNICATION SKILLS | ➢ The primary objective of communication is to convey information—instructions, policies, procedures, decisions, etc., so the listener will hear, read, understand what is said, agree and accept the message, and react as intended by the manager or sender of communication.<br>➢ Students will be able to understand the research methods associated with the study of human communication, and apply at least one of those approaches to the analysis and evaluation of human communication.<br>➢ Students will be able to find, use, and evaluate primary academic writing associated with the communication discipline.<br>➢ Students will develop knowledge, skills, and judgment around human communication that facilitate their ability to work collaboratively with others. Such skills could include communication competencies such as managing conflict, understanding small group processes, active listening, appropriate self-disclosure, etc. |
| PEO14 | INDIAN ENGLISH LITERATURE | ➢ Gaining exposure about growth of Indian English Literature in the post independent era.<br>➢ Critiquing the prescribed works of poetry, drama, fiction and prose.<br>➢ Understand the thematic concerns, style and literary sensibility of the writers. |
| PEO15 | AMERICAN LITARATURE | ➢ To introduce the students to the important themes and to bring out the hidden struggles for self reliance through the prescribed text.<br>➢ To acquaint the student with the nature in general and civil disobedience in particular.<br>➢ To discuss various topics relevant to a study of the American literature. |
| PEO15 | LITERARY | ➢ This course aims to develop student's ability to understand and to criticize a literary piece. |

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| | CRITICISM | ➢ To equip them knowledge of key forms and terminology of literary criticism, to ability to read the writings of literary scholars and critics with understanding and judicious appreciation.<br>➢ To acquire basic theoretical concepts underlying contemporary approaches to literature and the major differences between them.<br>➢ To develop the ability to conduct literary research according to established procedures and use such research effectively and responsibly.<br>➢ To develop with them the ability to write a critical essay that states a clear thesis and supports it persuasively, and to integrate literary research with personal ideas. |
| PEO16 | NEW LITERATURES IN ENGLISH | ➢ To introduce the students the important themes in New Literatures through the prescribed study.<br>➢ To acquaint the student with the nature of Commonwealth Works in general and African, Canadian and Caribbean in particular.<br>➢ To discuss various topics relevant to a study of New Literature in English . |
| PEO17 | ECO LITERATURE | ➢ Eco-literature lays stress on ecological issues.<br>➢ Cli-fi (climate fiction)deals with climate change and global warming,<br>➢ It is logically a sub-set of eco-literature.<br>➢ This genre looks at human activities that have been killing nature slowly. |
| PEO18 | ESSENTIALS OF RESEARCH | ➢ To define the Specific objectives and the primary aim of the study.<br>➢ Help define who, what, why, when and how to conduct the research project.<br>➢ The main objective of research is easier to develop and pursue a plan of action. |
| PEO19 | TECHNICAL WRITING AND PRESENTATION SKILLS | ➢ To familiarize the students about essentials of writing<br>➢ To enrich their vocabulary.<br>➢ To provide awareness of technical jargon and its use.<br>➢ To provide orientation of aspects of effective oral communication.<br>➢ To lend comprehensive idea oral presentations and inculcate confidence by providing opportunities of practice. |
| PEO20 | PERSONALITY DEVELOPMENT | ➢ It is the image of a person in others mind and emotions for that person in others heart.<br>➢ It makes a person Unique. |

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| | | ➢ There are many components of personality. |
| PEO21 | SUBALTERN LITERATURE | ➢ To explore the concepts of history, culture, nationalism, migration, gender and race in the context of post- colonial theories and literatures.<br>➢ To examine the notions of India and Indian Literature.<br>➢ To study the voices from the margins and from the subaltern groups.<br>➢ To deconstruct the traditional historiography which has erased histories of subordinated groups in a sustained manner?<br>➢ To know the nature, meaning and definition of Tribal Literature. |
| PEO22 | DIASPORIC WRITING | ➢ To examine the various aspects of Diaspora.<br>➢ To trace the comprehensive history of Diaspora Studies.<br>➢ To study the Diaspora elements among Indian and Indian Origin Women Writers.<br>➢ To study the Diaspora themes, characterization and plot employed in the literary oeuvre.<br>➢ To study the themes, characterization, style and strategies employed in fiction.<br>➢ To compare and contrast the Diaspora themes, characterization, plot, style and strategies and overall Diaspora features in the works. |
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| Program Specific Outcomes (PSOs) | |
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| SEMESTER I | |
| ENGYVU101<br><br>POETRY I | ➢ Creates awareness of the literary movements and concepts.<br>➢ Familiarises Prosodic features.<br>➢ Analyses critically the British poetry from fourteenth century to eighteen century. |

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| ENGYVU102<br><br>DRAMA I | ➢ Creates awareness of various Genres, Movements, Ideas and concepts of the time<br>➢ Understands and analyses early British drama and to create awareness of the classical, Renaissance and Restoration drama. |
| ENGYVU103<br><br>FICTION I | ➢ Familiarizes with literary history, genres, movements, ideas and concepts of the early British Fiction.<br>➢ Studies selected fiction of the writers. |
| ENGYVU104A<br><br>INTRODUCTION TO LINGUISTICS AND PHONETICS | ➢ Familiarizes with the essential features of human language and dimensions of language study.<br>➢ Creates awareness about Standard English language.<br>➢ Develops understanding about Standard English and important varieties of English language.<br>➢ Lends conceptual knowledge prosodic of English Language.<br>➢ Creates understanding of word formation process and important morphological process. |
| ENGYVU104B<br><br>WORLD CLASSICS IN ENGLISH TRANSLATION | ➢ Develops sensible response to great classics in translations.<br>➢ Finds an analytical skill with a view to achieve a broad, wholesome vision of life. |
| ENGYVU105A<br><br>PROSE - I | ➢ Familiarizes with the literary history, genres, movements, ideas and concepts of the early British Prose.<br>➢ Studies selected prose pieces of English essayists |
| ENGYVU105B<br><br>SHORT STORY | ➢ Familiarizes with the literary history, genres, movements, ideas and concepts.<br>➢ Studies selected Stories written by the writers. |
| ENGYVU106A<br><br>ENGLISH PROFICIENCY COURSE | ➢ Acquaints knowledge of basic functional and structural grammar vocabulary<br>➢ Gets acquainted with drafting letters and writing reports |
| ENGYVU106B<br><br>VALUE BASED EDUCATION | ➢ Identifies the contribution of social reformers and factors that influence social justice<br>➢ Compare and list the legal rights provided to women, children, Dalits, minorities |

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| | and physically challenged as per human rights and Indian constitution<br>➢ Stays as a responsible citizen and raise voice for any violence against women<br>➢ Analyzes the prospects and challenges in mass media role of media in<br>➢ Assess the influence of new media on children and youth and use them to inculcate communal harmony and social justice |
| SEMESTER II | |
| ENGYVU201<br><br>POETRY II | ➢ Familiarizes with various literary terms, techniques and concepts of the time.<br>➢ Analyses the British poetry from 18th century and explores literary movements of the time as the Victorian period, modern and post-modern period. |
| ENGYVU202<br><br>DRAMA II | ➢ Develops insights into various literary genres, movements, ideas, trends and concepts during the time.<br>➢ Traces the development of British drama from 19th century to 21st century . |
| ENGYVU203<br><br>FICTION II | ➢ Familiarizes with the literary history genres, movements, ideas, trends and concepts of that period.<br>➢ Studies novels written by the novelists as representatives of their time. |
| ENGYVU204A<br><br>ENGLISH LANGUAGE TEACHING | ➢ Creates familiarity about the distinction between language acquisition and language learning.<br>➢ Familiarizes the principles of ELT and current trends of Teaching and Learning. Provides understanding on important theories of language learning and methods of teaching English.<br>➢ Develops insights of teaching poetry, prose and LSRW Skills.<br>➢ Offers materials for ELT and the use of terminology including CALL and CALT. |
| ENGYVU204B<br><br>SOCIO-LINGUISTICS | ➢ Comprehend the scope and role of Socio-linguistics as a seminal field of study.<br>➢ Develop theoretical understanding and apply the concepts of some of the major exponents in the field of Socio-linguistics.<br>➢ Gain perception about language communities and important practices in Sociolinguistics.<br>➢ Obtain sufficient understanding about the role of language teacher and certain pedagogical practices. |
| ENGYVU205A<br><br>PROSE II | ➢ Familiarizes students with the Victorian and modern centuries of the time.<br>➢ Studies selected prose pieces of the renowned essayists of the time. |

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| ENGYVU205B<br><br>COMMUNICATION AND SOFT SKILLS I | ➢ The primary objective of communication is to convey information—instructions, policies, procedures, decisions, etc., so the listener will listen, read, understand what is said, agree and accept the message, and react as intended by the manager or sender of communication.<br>➢ Students will be able to understand the research methods associated with the study of human communication, and apply at least one of those approaches to the analysis and evaluation of human communication..<br>➢ Students will be able to find, use, and evaluate primary academic writing associated with the communication discipline.<br>➢ Students will develop knowledge, skills, and judgment around human communication that facilitate their ability to work collaboratively with others. Such skills could include communication competencies such as managing conflict, understanding small group processes, active listening, appropriate self-disclosure, etc. |
| ENGYVU206A<br><br>ESSENTIAL COMMUNICATION SKILLS I | ➢ The primary objective of communication is to convey information—instructions, policies, procedures, decisions, etc., so the listener will Listen, read, understand what is said, agree and accept the message, and react as intended by the manager or sender of communication.<br>➢ Students will be able to understand the research methods associated with the study of human communication, and apply at least one of those approaches to the analysis and evaluation of human communication..<br>➢ Students will be able to find, use, and evaluate primary academic writing associated with the communication discipline.<br>➢ Students will develop knowledge, skills, and judgment around human communication that facilitate their ability to work collaboratively with others. The skills could include communication competencies such as managing conflict, understanding small group processes, active listening, appropriate self-disclosure, etc. |
| ENGYVU206B<br><br>ONLINE COURSES | B) SWAYAM /MOOCs/ NPTEL |
| SEMESTER III | |
| ENGYVU301<br><br>INDIAN ENGLISH LITERATURE I | ➢ Creates understanding on the origin and growth of Indian English literature.<br>➢ Develops literary sensibility by prescribing works of literature authored by early Indian writers in English. |

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| | ➢ Exposes to different genres of Indian English Literature.<br>➢ Foster critical aptitude of interpreting and analyzing the prescribed text in Indian English Literature. |
| ENGYVU302<br>AMERICAN LITERATURE I | ➢ Familiarizes with the literary history genres, movements, ideas, trends and concepts connected with the time.<br>➢ Provides an understanding of the origin and development of American literature.<br>➢ Studies select writings of the most respective American poets, dramatists and novelists. |
| ENGYVU303<br>LITERARTY CRITICISM I | ➢ Traces the origin and development of Greek literary criticism and to analyze various critical works of the romantic, Victorian and modern period.<br>➢ Develops a critical attitude to analyze drama, poetry . |
| ENGYVU304A<br>NEW LITERATURES IN ENGLISH I | ➢ Studies development of New literature in Commonwealth countries and in nations other then Britain. Australia, Canadian, African literature always with important movements, concepts, trends of the natives of different regions other than Britain |
| ENGYVU304B<br>ECO LITERATURE | ➢ Eco-literature lays stress on ecological issues.<br>➢ Cli-fi (climate fiction)deals with climate change and global warming,<br>➢ It is logically a sub-set of eco-literature.<br>➢ The genre looks at human activities that have been killing the Nature slowly. |
| ENGYVU305A<br>COMMUNICATION AND SOFT SKILLS II | ➢ Familiarizes the students with various communication and language (LSRW) skills in English.<br>➢ Enables them to teach communication skills for Regular and Professional courses. |
| ENGYVU305B<br>ESSENTIALS OF RESEARCH | ➢ Specific objectives define the primary aim of the study.<br>➢ Help define the who, what, why, when and how to conduct the research project.<br>➢ The main objective of research is easier to develop and pursue a plan of action. |
| ENGYVU306A | ➢ Familiarizes the students with various communication and language (LSRW) skills in English..<br>➢ Enables them to teach communication skills for Regular and Professional |

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| ESSENTIAL COMMUNICATION SKILLS II | courses. |
| ENGYVU306B<br><br>TECHNICAL WRITING AND PRESENTATION SKILLS | ➢ Knowledgeable about mechanics of writing<br>➢ Familiar with technical report writing and mini project proposals<br>➢ Aware of aspects related to effective oral communication<br>➢ Conversant with oral presentations |
| SEMESTER IV | |
| ENGYVU401<br><br>INDIAN ENGLISH LITERATURE II | ➢ Provides understanding about the development of Indian English Literature during the post-independence era.<br>➢ Creates awareness about transition in the thematic concerns in IEL.<br>➢ Makes the students study different genres of Indian English Literature offering thematic variety.<br>➢ Develops aptitude of the texts of various genres of Indian English Literature. |
| ENGYVU402<br><br>AMERICAN LITERATURE II | ➢ Familiarizes with the literary history genres, movements, ideas, trends and concepts connected with the time.<br>➢ Provides an understanding of the origin and development of American literature.<br>➢ Studies selected writings of the most respective American poets, dramatists and novelists. |
| ENGYVU403<br><br>LITERARTY CRITICISM II | ➢ Makes the students familiarize with literary history, genres, movements, ideas, trends, concepts of criticize connected with the time.<br>➢ Analyzes critical theories as Marxism feminism, structuralism, post structuralism, Freud. |
| ENGYVU404A<br><br>NEW LITERATURES IN ENGLISH II | ➢ Studies movements, concepts, trends of the natives of different regions other than Britain.<br>➢ Studies development of New literature in Commonwealth countries. |
| ENGYVU404B<br><br>PERSONALITY DEVELOPMENT | ➢ Accepts that everyone is unique, don't have arrogance.<br>➢ Always remembers that everyone is unique and special in its own self. |
| ENGYVU405A | ➢ Studies Indian cultural reflections. |

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| SUBALTERN LITERATURE | ➢ Studies Social realism, in Indian subaltern literature. |
| ENGYVU405B DIASPORIC WRITING | ➢ Studies Indian Diasporic writing as a subject.<br>➢ Studies and analyze theories connected with writings and selected works. |
| ENGYVU406A PROJECT | ➢ PROJECT ON LITERATURE |
| ENGYVU406B PROJECT | ➢ PROJECT ON LANGUAGE |

YOGI VEMANA UNIVERSITY

Vemanapuram, Kadapa-516 005, A.P., INDIA

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# M.A ENGLISH LITERATURE AND LANGUAGE- SYLLABUS

*(For the students admitted during the academic year2021 – 22 onwards)*

| Semester | Components of Study | Course Code | Title of the Course | No. of credits | No. of hours per week | Tutorial per week | Internal Assessment | Semster End Exams | Total |
|---|---|---|---|---|---|---|---|---|---|
| SEMESTER-I | Core | ENGYVU 101 | Poetry- I | 4 | 4 | 2 | 25 | 75 | 100 |
| | | ENGYVU 102 | Drama –I | 4 | 4 | 2 | 25 | 75 | 100 |
| | | ENGYVU 103 | Fiction – I | 4 | 4 | 2 | 25 | 75 | 100 |
| | Foundation | ENGYVU 104 | A)Introduction to Linguistics and Phonetics | 4 | 4 | 2 | 25 | 75 | 100 |
| | | | B) World Classics in English Translation | | 4 | 2 | | | |
| | Internal Elective-1 | ENGYVU 105 | A) Prose – I | 4 | 4 | 2 | 25 | 75 | 100 |
| | | | B) Short Stories | | 4 | 2 | | | |
| | Internal Elective-2 | ENGYVU 106 | A) English Proficiency Course | 4 | 4 | 2 | 25 | 75 | 100 |
| | | | B) Value Based Education | | 4 | 2 | | | |
| | *Sub-total* | | | 24 | 36 | 18 | 150 | 450 | 600 |
| SEMETER-II | Core | ENGYVU 201 | Poetry- II | 4 | 4 | 2 | 25 | 75 | 100 |
| | | ENGYVU 202 | Drama –II | 4 | 4 | 2 | 25 | 75 | 100 |
| | | ENGYVU 203 | Fiction – II | 4 | 4 | 2 | 25 | 75 | 100 |
| | Foundation | ENGYVU 204 | A) English Language Teaching | 4 | 4 | 2 | 25 | 75 | 100 |
| | | | B) Socio-linguistics | | 4 | 2 | | | |
| | Internal Elective | ENGYVU 205 | A) Prose – II | 4 | 4 | 2 | 25 | 75 | 100 |
| | | | B) Communication And Soft Skills-I | | 4 | 2 | | | |
| | Open Elective | ENGYVU 206 | A) Essential Communication Skills – I | 4 | 4 | 2 | 25 | 75 | 100 |
| | | | B) SWAYAM /MOOCs/ NPTEL | | 4 | 2 | | | |
| | *Sub-total* | | | 24 | 36 | 18 | 150 | 450 | 600 |
| SEMESTER-III | Core | ENGYVU 301 | Indian English Literature-I | 4 | 4 | 2 | 25 | 75 | 100 |
| | | ENGYVU 302 | American Literature-I | 4 | 4 | 2 | | | |
| | | ENGYVU 303 | Literary Criticism-I | 4 | 4 | 2 | 25 | 75 | 100 |
| | Skill Orien- | ENGYVU 304 | A)New Literatures in English-I | 4 | 4 | 2 | 25 | 75 | 100 |

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| | ted Course | | B) Eco Literature | | 4 | 2 | | | |
| | Internal Electives | ENGYVU 305 | A) Essentials of Research | 4 | 4 | 2 | 25 | 75 | 100 |
| | | | B) Communication and Soft Skills-II | | 4 | 2 | | | |
| | Open Elective | ENGYVU 306 | A) Essential Communication Skills –II | 4 | 4 | 2 | 25 | 75 | 100 |
| | | | B) Technical Writing and Presentation Skills | | 4 | 2 | | | |
| | *Sub-total* | | | 24 | 36 | 18 | 150 | 450 | 600 |
| SEMESTER-IV | Core | ENGYVU 401 | Indian English Literature-II | 4 | 4 | 2 | 25 | 75 | 100 |
| | | ENGYVU 402 | American Literature-II | 4 | 4 | 2 | | | |
| | | ENGYVU 403 | Literary Criticism-II | 4 | 4 | 2 | 25 | 75 | 100 |
| | Internal Elective-1 | ENGYVU 404 | A) New Literatures in English – II | 4 | 4 | 2 | 25 | 75 | 100 |
| | | | B) Personality Development | | 4 | 2 | | | |
| | Internal Elective-2 | ENGYVU 405 | (A) Subaltern Literature | 4 | 4 | 2 | 25 | 75 | 100 |
| | | | (B) Diasporic Writing | | 4 | 2 | | | |
| | Multi-Disciplinary/ Project | ENGYVU 406 | (A) Project on Literature | 4 | 4 | 2 | 25 | 75 | 100 |
| | | | (B) Project on Language | | 4 | 2 | | | |
| | *Sub-total* | | | 24 | 36 | 18 | 150 | 450 | 600 |
| Grand Total | | | | 96 | 216 | 72 | 600 | 1800 | 2400 |

- *All core papers are Mandatory*
- *Compulsory Foundation -Choose one paper.*
- *Internal/Open Elective – Choose one paper.*
- *Open Electives for other Department Students in the varsity. Interested students may register for SWAYAM /MOOCs/ NPTEL with the approval of the concerned DDC for the award of the grade as 'open elective'.*
- *Skill Oriented course based on relevant societal application and it is mandatory*
- *Choose one from Multi-Disciplinary (Circle formation with other subjects/Dept. of Arts/ Commerce) Course or Project (Collaboration with various firms/companies/societies) work.*

# YOGI VEMANA UNIVERSITY, KADAPA

DEPARTMENT OF ENGLISH

M.A ENGLISH LITERATURE AND LANGUAGE

SEMESTER - I

ENGYVU101: POETRY – I

With Effect From 2021-22 (Under NEP 2020 )

## Educational Objectives (PEOs)

- To introduce the students to the important themes in poetry fourteenth century to eighteenth century through the prescribed study.
- To acquaint the student with the nature of Works in general and in particular.
- To discuss various topics relevant to a study of the poetry.

UNIT – I

Background Study : Literary Terms: Ode, Epic, Mock Epic Augustan Satire, Elegy, Lyric – Genres – Movements – Ideas – Trends – Concepts.

UNIT – II

1. Geoffrey Chaucer : The Prologue to the Canterbury Tales (The Knight, the wife of bath, The Partner)
2. John Donne : A Valediction*:* Forbidding Mourning, Canonization.

UNIT – III

3. Milton : Paradise Lost, IV
4. Alexander Pope : The Rape of the Lock.

UNIT – IV

5. William Wordsworth : Lines Written a Few Miles above Tintern Abbey.
6. John Keats : Ode to a Nightingale, Ode to Autumn.

## Program Specific Outcomes (PSOs)

- Creates awareness of the literary movements and concepts.
- Familiarises Prosodic features.
- Analyses critically the British poetry from fourteenth century to eighteen century.

## Suggested Reading


- John Donne: A Life (Clarendon Press, Oxford, rpe1 986)
- Poetry and Prose (1540-1674). Ed Christopher Rick (Penguin Books, )
- Songs and Sonnets: A Collection of Critical Essays, ed. Julian Macmillan,)
- The Pelican: Guide to English Literature, Vol. J From Donne to Marvell, Ed (Penguin Books,)
- The Romantic Imagination - C.M. Bowra
- Graham Hough The Romantic Poets
- Sidney Colvin: Keats
- C.H. Herford: The Age of Wordsworth


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**Contents**

1. Background Study

1.1 Literary Terms: Ode, Epic, Mock Epic Augustan Satire, Elegy,

1.2 Lyric

1.3 Genres

1.4 Movements

1.5 Ideas

1.6 Trends

1.7 Concepts.

2. Geoffrey Chaucer

2.1 The Prologue to the Canterbury Tales (The Knight, the wife of bath, The Partner)

2.2 John Donne A Valediction*:* Forbidding Mourning, Canonization.

3. 1 Milton : Paradise Lost, IV

3.2 Alexander Pope: The Rape of the Lock.

4.1. William Wordsworth : Lines Written a Few Miles above Tintern Abbey.

4.2 John Keats: Ode to a Nightingale, Ode to Autumn.

# YOGI VEMANA UNIVERSITY,KADAPA

DEPARTMENT OF ENGLISH

M.A ENGLISH LITERATURE AND LANGUAGE

SEMESTER - I

ENGYVU102: DRAMA – I

With Effect From 2021-22 (Under NEP 2020 )

## Program Educational Objectives (PEOs)

- After going through the prescribed text students will be able to understand literary terms, Plot, characterization, themes, motifs, symbols and other elements of the prescribed texts.
- After going through the prescribed text students will be able to understand the changes that occurred over a period of a time in the British Literature starting from the Elizabethan period to the Restoration period.
- After going through the prescribed text students will be able to understand critical analysis of the prescribed plays.

UNIT – I

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| Background Study | : | Literary History – Genre – Movements – Ideas – Trends – Concepts |

UNIT – II

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|---|---|---|
| 1. Christopher Marlowe | : | Dr. Faustus |
| 2. Ben Jonson | : | Volpone |

UNIT – III

| | | |
|---|---|---|
| 3. William Shakespeare | : | Hamlet |
| 4. William Shakespeare | : | Measure for Measure |

UNIT – IV

| | | |
|---|---|---|
| 5. William Congreve | : | Way of the World |
| 6. Oscar Wilde | : | The Importance of Being Earnest |

## Program Specific Outcomes (PSOs)

- Creates awareness of various Genres, Movements, Ideas and concepts of the time

- Understands and analyses early British drama and to create awareness of the classical, Renaissance and Restoration drama.

Suggested Reading:


- Chambers, E. K. The Elizabethan Stage. 4 Volumes, Oxford, Clarendon Press, 1923.
- Logan, Terence P., and Denzell S. Smith, eds. The Predecessors of Shakespeare: A Survey and Bibliography of Recent Studies in English Renaissance Drama. Lincoln, NE, University of Nebraska Press, 1973.
- Marlowe, Christopher (1962). Bevington, David; Rasmussen, Eric (eds.). Doctor Faustus, A- and B-texts (1604, 1616). Manchester: U of Manchester P. pp. 72–73. ISBN 9780719016431.
- Bloom, Harold, ed. (2008). Macbeth. Bloom's Shakespeare Through the Ages. New York: Chelsea House. ISBN 978-0-7910-9842-4.
- Braunmuller, Albert R., ed. (1997). Macbeth. The New Cambridge Shakespeare. Cambridge: Cambridge University Press. ISBN 978-0-521-29455-3.
- Brooke, Nicholas, ed. (2008). Macbeth. The Oxford Shakespeare. Oxford: Oxford University Press. ISBN 978-0-19-953583-5.


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**Contents**

1.Background Study
1.1 Literary History
1.2 Genre
1.3 Movements
1.4 Ideas
1.5 Trends
1.6 Concepts

2.1 Christopher Marlowe : Dr. Faustus
2.2 Ben Jonson : Volpone

3.1 William Shakespeare : Hamlet
3.2 William Shakespeare : Measure for Measure

4.1. William Congreve : Way of the World
4.2. Oscar Wilde : The Importance of Being Earnest

# YOGI VEMANA UNIVERSITY,KADAPA

DEPARTMENT OF ENGLISH

M.A ENGLISH LITERATURE AND LANGUAGE

SEMESTER - I

ENGYVU103: FICTION – I

With Effect From 2021-22 (Under NEP 2020 )

## Program Educational Objectives (PEOs)

- After going through the prescribed text students will be able to understand to study the conditions of the sensibility in novels.
- To study the characterization from an ironic point of view.
- To study the narrative plot. To study the sturdy rich yet fateful Agrarian background of narrative world.
- To study the historical background of war and aesthetic background.

UNIT – 1

| | | |
|---|---|---|
| Background Study | : | Literary History – Genres – Movements – Ideas Trends – Concepts |

UNIT – II

| | | |
|---|---|---|
| 1 .Daniel Defoe | : | Robinson Crusoe |
| 2. Henry Fielding | : | Joseph Andrews |

UNIT – III

| | | |
|---|---|---|
| 3. Jane Austen | : | Pride and Prejudice |
| 4. George Eliot | : | The Mill on the Floss. |

UNIT – IV

| | | |
|---|---|---|
| 5. Charles Dickens | : | A Tale of Two Cities |
| 6. Thomas Hardy | : | Tess of D'Urbervilles |

## Program Specific Outcomes (PSOs)

- Familiarizes with literary history, genres, movements, ideas and concepts of the early British Fiction.
- Studies selected fiction of the writers.

## Suggested Reading:

- The Cambridge History of English Literature
- The English Novel: A Short Critical History – Walter Allen, Penguin Books, Harmonds worth

- An Introduction to the English Novel Vols. 1 & 2 – Arnold Kettle, Hutchinson & Co.
- The Literature of the Victorian Era – Hugh Walker, S. Chand & Co., New Delhi
- The English Novel – David Skelton 6. The Growth of the English Novel – Richard Church


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## Contents

1.Background Study

1.1 Literary History

1.2 Genres

1.3 Movements

1.4 Ideas

1.5Trends

1.6 Concepts

| | | |
|---|---|---|
| 2.1 .Daniel Defoe | : | Robinson Crusoe |
| 2.2 Henry Fielding | : | Joseph Andrews |
| | | |
| 3.1 Jane Austen | : | Pride and Prejudice |
| 3.2. George Eliot | : | The Mill on the Floss. |
| | | |
| 4.1 Charles Dickens | : | A Tale of Two Cities |
| 4.2 Thomas Hardy | : | Tess of D'Urbervilles |

# YOGI VEMANA UNIVERSITY,KADAPA

DEPARTMENT OF ENGLISH

M.A ENGLISH LITERATURE AND LANGUAGE

SEMESTER – I

ENGYVU104: INTRODUCTION TO LINGUISTICS AND PHONETICS

FOUNDATION (A)

With Effect From 2021-22 (Under NEP 2020 )

## Program Educational Objectives (PEOs)

- Orientation about features of language.
- Familiarity about distinction between Animal & Human Communication.
- Awareness about linguistics and its scope.
- Insights on Diachronic & Synchronic Study.

UNIT – I

A. Language – Definition – Features – Human Language vs. Animal

B. Language- Definition and Scope of Linguistics- Significant Dimensions of Study.

UNIT – II A. Brief History of English Language-

B. Features of Old English and Middle English – Influences (Latin, French, and Indian)

UNIT – III A. Speech Mechanism - Description of Speech Sounds

B. Variants of Sounds- Stress / Rhythm- Intonation

UNIT – IV A. Morphology – Morphological Operations

B. Word formation processes

## Program Specific Outcomes (PSOs)

- Familiarizes with the essential features of human language and dimensions of language study.
- Creates awareness about Standard English language.
- Develops understanding about Standard English and important varieties of English language.
- Lends conceptual knowledge prosodic of English Language.
- Creates understanding of word formation process and important morphological process.

*Suggested Reading*:

- The Study of Language, George Yule, , Cambridge University 2017
- History of English Language by Albert C Baugh (Author), Thomas Cable (Author) 2011
- Spoken English by R.K Bansal & J.B. Harrison , Orient Longman Publishers 2000.
- An Introduction to English Morphology- Andrew Carstairs -Mc Carthy Series: Edinburgh Text books on the English Language, Date: 2018, Published by: Edinburgh University Press.


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# Content

1.1 Language

1.2 Definition

1.3 Features

1.4 Human Language vs. Animal

1.5 Language

1.6 Definition and Scope of Linguistics

1.7 Significant Dimensions of Study.

2.1 Brief History of English Language

2.2Features of Old English and Middle English

2.3 Influences (Latin,French, and Indian)

3.1 Speech Mechanism

3.2 Description of Speech Sounds

3.3Variants of Sounds

3.4 Stress / Rhythm

3.5 Intonation

4.1 Morphology – Morphological Operations

4.2 Word formation processes

# YOGI VEMANA UNIVERSITY,KADAPA

DEPARTMENT OF ENGLISH

M.A ENGLISH LITERATURE AND LANGUAGE

SEMESTER - I

ENGYVU104: WORLD CLASSICS IN ENGLISH TRANSLATION

FOUNDATION (B)

With Effect From 2021-22 (Under NEP 2020 )

## Program Educational Objectives (PEOs)

- To introduce students to the world's best classics in translations
- To generate a broad vision of life by making the students to come to grips with universal problems and varied life situations.
- To make the students to have a feel of excel classics in translations various genres – poetry, fiction, short stories and drama- by a judicious selection.
- It should instil in the students a spirit of enquiry and further exploration.

## UNIT I

Background Study : Literary Classics: Definitions – Critical Concepts – The Emergence Of Classics – A Brief Survey – Greek And Roman: Homer, Virgil, Aeschylus, Sophocles – Euripides

T S Eliot : What is a Classic?

## UNIT II

1. Dante Alighieri : Inferno
2. Ovid : Metamorphoses, Selections - Bacchus' (Book III), lines from 512-733,

## UNIT III

3. Shudraka : The Little Clay Cart (Mricchakatikam)
4. Sophocles : Oedipus Rex or 'Oedipus the King'.

## UNIT IV

5. Dostoevsky : Crime and Punishment. (Penguin Classics)
6. Leo Tolstoy : Anna Karenina,

## Program Specific Outcomes (PSOs)

- Develops sensible response to great classics in translations and find you an analytical skill with a view to achieving a broad, wholesome vision of life.

## Suggested Reading:

- T. S. Eliot: The Critic, what is a classic, Fifteenth Edition-2005, Rama Brothers India Pvt. Ltd educational Publishers-New Delhi, ISBN 81-7581-218-4.
- Dante Alighieri: Inferno Bantam Dell Publishers-New York, ISBN 0-55321339-3.
- Ovid: Metamorphoses, A new translation by A. D. Melville, Oxford University Press-New York, 2008.ISBN-978-0-19-953737-2.
- Shudraka: The Little Clay Cart, Translated by Diwakar Acharaya, First Edition, New York University Press-New York 2000, ISBN-978-0-814729-6.
- Sophocles: Oedipus Rex, Translated by H.D. F Kitto, Oxford University Press- New York, 2008, ISBN-978-0-19-953717-4.
- Dostoevsky: Crime and Punishment, Oxford University press- New York, ISBN- 978-0-19-953636-8.
- Leo Tolstoy: Anna Karenina, Rupa & Co. Publishers New Delhi. ISBN 81-71670628.

**Content**

1.Background Study

1.1 Literary Classics: Definitions

1.2Critical Concepts

1.3 The Emergence Of Classics

1.4 A Brief Survey

1.5 Greek And Roman: Homer, Virgil, Aeschylus, Sophocles

1.6 Euripides

1.7 T S Eliot : What is a Classic?

2.1 Dante Alighieri : Inferno

2.2 Ovid : Metamorphoses, Selections - Bacchus‘ (Book III), lines from 512-733,

**3.1** Shudraka : The Little Clay Cart (Mricchakatikam)

**3.2** Sophocles : Oedipus Rex or ‘Oedipus the King’.

4.1 Dostoevsky : Crime and Punishment. (Penguin Classics)

4.2 Leo Tolstoy : Anna Karenina,

# YOGI VEMANA UNIVERSITY,KADAPA

DEPARTMENT OF ENGLISH

M.A ENGLISH LITERATURE AND LANGUAGE

SEMESTER – I

ENGYVU105: PROSE – I

INTERNAL ELECTIVE(A)

With Effect From 2021-22 (Under NEP 2020 )

## Program Educational Objectives (PEOs)

- To develop the imagination and fancy of the students.
- To acquaints the students with the style of the writer.
- To develop their love for natural objects.
- To develop their aesthetic sense.
- To develop the habit of thinking among the students.

UNIT – I

Background Study : Literary History – Genres – Movements – Ideas – Trends – Concepts

UNIT – II

1. Francis Bacon : 1.Of Studies, 2.Of Truth, 3.Of Youth and Age

2. Joseph Addison : The Coverley Papers (Selected Essays)

1. Sir Roger at the Church

2. Labour and Exercise

UNIT – III

3. Jonathan Swift : Gulliver's Travels

4. Charles Lamb : 1.Dream Children, 2.The South-Sea House

UNIT – IV

5. John Milton : Areopagitica

6. Bertrand Russell : The Role of Individuality.

## Program Specific Outcomes (PSOs)

- Familiarizes with the literary history, genres, movements, ideas and concepts of the early British Prose.
- Studies selected prose pieces of English essayists

## Suggested Reading:

- The Cambridge History of English Literature

- Francis Bacon and Renaissance Prose – Brian Vickers, Cambridge University Press
- Seventeenth Century Prose: Modern Essays in Criticism – Stanley Fish, Oxford University Press
- Anatomy of Prose – Marjorie Boulton, Kalyani Publishers, New Delhi
- *The Literature of the Victorian Era – Hugh Walker, S. Chand & Co., New Delhi*

## Content

1. Background Study

1.1 Literary History

1.2 Genres

1.3 Movements

1.4 Ideas

1.5 Trends

1.6 Concepts

2. Francis Bacon

2.1 Of Studies,

2.2 Of Truth,

2.3.Of Youth and Age

Joseph Addison : The Coverley Papers (Selected Essays)

2.4 Sir Roger at the Church

2.5 Labour and Exercise

3.1 Jonathan Swift : Gulliver's Travels

3.2 Charles Lamb :

3.3.Dream Children,

3.4.The South-Sea House

4.1 John Milton : Areopagitica

4.2 Bertrand Russell : The Role of Individuality.

# YOGI VEMANA UNIVERSITY,KADAPA

DEPARTMENT OF ENGLISH

M.A ENGLISH LITERATURE AND LANGUAGE

SEMESTER - I

ENGYVU 105: SHORT STORY

INTERNAL ELECTIVE I B

With Effect From 2021-22 (Under NEP 2020 )

## Program Educational Objectives (PEOs)

- Identify key points in stories.
- Summarize the events of a story in a concise manner.
- Organize key points of stories into chronological action categories.
- Develop an original narrative in a collaborative manner.

## UNIT I

Background Study : Tale - Fable - Story - Novelette. Types Of Stories: Detective-Social-Allegorical-Magic - Realism. Aspects Of The Short Story: Story - Plot - Characters - Narrative Techniques - Unities - Tone - Setting - Dialogue - Telling And Showing - Structure - Style.

UNIT-II

1. Edgar Allan poe : 1.The Angel of the Odd 2.The Man of the Crowd
2. O. Henry : 1.A Survive of Love 2. The Last Leaf

UNIT-III

3. Anton Chekov : 1. On Marriage 2. The New Villa
4. Oscar Wilde : 1. The Model Millionaire 2. The Devoted Friend

UNIT-IV:

5.Chinua Achebe : 1. Voter 2. Marriage Is a Private Affair

6.Lorrie Moore : 1. How to become a Writer
2. Constant Struggle

## Program Specific Outcomes (PSOs)

- Organizes key points of stories into chronological action categories.
- Develops an original narrative in a collaborative manner.
- Compares the plot structures of multiple stories.

## Suggested Reading

- Edgar Allan Poe : "The Tell-Tale Heart" 2015 Publisher: Penguin Books Ltd.
  "The Raven-Tale Heart" 2007, Richard G. Badger & Co.
  Boston publishers ltd.
- O. Henry : "The Gift of Magi" 1906, ''the Floating Press Publishers
  "The Last Leaf" narrated by William Glennon 1900,
  Dramatic Publishing House
- Guy De Maupassant : "The Necklace" 2016, Xist Publishing " La Vendetta" 2018,
  Edizioni Clandestine

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## Content

1. Background Study

1.1 Tale

1.2 Fable

1.3 Story

1.4 Novelette. Types Of Stories: Detective

1.5 Social

1.6Allegorical

1.7 Magic

1.8 Realism.

1.9 Aspects Of The Short Story: Story

1.10 Plot

1.11 Characters

1.12 Narrative Techniques

1.13 Unities

1.14 Tone

1.15 Setting

1.16 Dialogue

1.17 Telling And Showing

1.18 Structure

1.19 Style

2.1 Edgar Allan poe : 1.The Angel of the Odd 2.The Man of the Crowd

2.2 O. Henry : 1.A Survive of Love 2. The Last Leaf

3.1 Anton Chekov : 1. On Marriage 2. The New Villa

3.2 Oscar Wilde : 1. The Model Millionaire 2. The Devoted Friend

4.1 Chinua Achebe : 1. Voter 2. Marriage Is a Private Affair

4.2 Lorrie Moore : 1. How to become a Writer
2. Constant Struggle

# YOGI VEMANA UNIVERSITY,KADAPA

DEPARTMENT OF ENGLISH

M.A ENGLISH LITERATURE AND LANGUAGE

SEMESTER - I

ENGYVU 106 – ENGLISH PROFICIENCY COURSE

INTERNAL ELECTIVE II (A)

With Effect From 2021-22 (Under NEP 2020 )

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## Program Educational Objectives (PEOs)

- The subject keeps in view the students from vernacular medium institutions
- The Subject offers an in depth analysis of vocabulary building and sentence structure
- To get the students acquainted with the lab and make them workout exercises for each unit

UNIT -I

Functional Grammar : A(a). Recognition of Parts of Speech - Articles

(b). Verb forms –Usage of Tenses -Conditional Sentences

B.(a)Identifying and Interchange of Sentences (Simple, Complex and Compound) (Active and Passive voice)

(b)Use of Prepositions and Prepositional Phrases - Correction of Sentences

UNIT-II

Vocabulary Usage : A(a).Use the given Idioms and Phrases in your own Sentences

(b).One Word Substitutes – Recognition and Usage

B(a). Synonyms – Recognition and Usage Antonyms – Recognition and Usage-Words often confused

(b).Expansion of Proverb /Sayings

UNIT –III

Reading Comprehension : A. Passage for Reading Comprehension

B. Non-Verbal Communication Description of a given Picture/Symbols

UNIT –IV

Composition : A. Write a Paragraph using the given Words/Phrases

Summarizing /Precise Writing- Essay Writing on Topics of Social relevance

B. Letter Writing (Informal & Formal)

## Program Specific Outcomes (PSOs)

- Acquaints knowledge of basic functional and structural grammar vocabulary

- Gets acquainted with drafting letters and writing reports

## Suggested Reading


- The ethics of the family-Cambridge Scholars publishing (2010).
- Student Values as Educational Objectives- (1966)-Purdue University Press- Issue 124.
- Healthy Life Style (e-book) Springer Publishers
- Values At Work (2002), Cornell University Press
- Social Ethics and Social Duties Publisher: Book on Demand Ltd


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**Content**

1. Functional Grammar

1.1 Recognition of Parts of Speech – Articles

1.2 Verb forms –Usage of Tenses -Conditional Sentences

1.3 Identifying and Interchange of Sentences (Simple Complex and Compound) (Active and Passive voice)

1.4 Use of Prepositions and Prepositional Phrases - Correction of Sentences

2.Vocabulary Usage

2.1 Use the given Idioms and Phrases in your own Sentences

2.2 One Word Substitutes – Recognition and Usage

2.3 Synonyms – Recognition and Usage Antonyms – Recognition and Usage-Words often confused

2.3 Expansion of Proverb /Sayings

3.Reading Comprehension

3.1 Passage for Reading Comprehension

3.2 Non-Verbal Communication Description of a given Picture/Symbols

4. Composition

4.1 Write a Paragraph using the given Words/Phrases Summarizing /Precise Writing-Essay Writing on Topics of Social relevance

4.2 Letter Writing (Informal & Formal)

# YOGI VEMANA UNIVERSITY,KADAPA

DEPARTMENT OF ENGLISH

M.A ENGLISH LITERATURE AND LANGUAGE

SEMESTER - I

ENGYVU 106 -VALUE BASED EDUCATION

INTERNAL ELECTIVE II (B)

With Effect From 2021-22 (Under NEP 2020 )

## Program Educational Objectives (PEOs)

- To enable the students to understand the social realities and to inculcate an essential value system towards building a health society.
- state the meaning of social justice, human rights, Globalization, mass media and new media
- enumerate the rights of women, children, Dalits, minorities and physically challenged as per Indian constitution
- comprehend the social realities and issues and challenges in globalization and inculcate an essential value system towards building a healthy society

UNIT-I 1. Personal and Family Ethics:

A) Definition of value education - relevance to present day - Concept of Human Values - self introspection - Self esteem,

B) Family Values, Responsibilities of family. Stress and anger management - Adjustability - Threats of family life - Status of women in family and society - Caring for needy and elderly - Time allotment for sharing ideas and concerns.

UNIT-II 2. Student Values:

A) Power Of Positivity: Optimism, Plight Kind Of Attitude Towards Self Career And Others, Right Kind Of Thoughts, Action And Behavior,

B) First Impression: Etiquette, Voice Tone And Body Language.

UNIT-III 3. Healthy Life Style:

A) Breaking bad habits and excessive use of social media.

B) Food habits and sleeping habits, physical fitness, spiritual thinking

UNIT-IV 4. Social Ethics

A) Humanism: Social Consciousness, Social Responsibility, Respect For Law

B) Environmental Ethics; Kinds Of Pollution, Health Hazards, Climate Change, Saving The Planet

## Program Specific Outcomes (PSOs)

- Identifies the contribution of social reformers and factors that influence social justice
- Compare and list the legal rights provided to women, children, Dalits, minorities and

physically challenged as per human rights and Indian constitution

- Stays as a responsible citizen and raise voice for any violence against women
- Analyzes the prospects and challenges in mass media role of media inAssess the influence of new media on children and youth and use them to inculcate communal harmony and social justice

## Suggested Reading


- Value Education by Kiruba Charles & V.Arul Selvi, Bookman Publications, Delhi.(Text Book) 2022.
- 1. Francis, K. (1993). Education reform for social justice (Vol. 2).Discovery publishing house 2. Satvinder Juss. (2020).
- Human rights in India. Routledge Smarak Swain, S. (2011). Social issues of India. New Vishal publications
- Chakraborty, S. K., Chakraborty, D. (2006).
- Human Values and Ethics. ICFAI University Press 5. David Buckingham. (2013).
- Media Education: Literacy, Learning & Contemporary culture. Wiley Publishers.

**Contents**

1. Personal and Family Ethics

**1.1** Definition of value education

**1.2** relevance to present day

**1.3** Concept of Human Values

**1.4** self introspection

**1.5** Self esteem,

Family Values, Responsibilities of family.

**1.6** Stress and anger management

**1.7** Adjustability

**1.8** Threats of family life

**1.9** Status of women in family and society

**1.10** Caring for needy and elderly

**1.11** Time allotment for sharing ideas and concerns.

2. Student Values

2.1 Power Of Positivity: Optimism, Plight Kind Of Attitude Towards Self Career And Others, Right Kind Of Thoughts, Action And Behavior,

**2.2** First Impression: Etiquette, Voice Tone And Body Language

3. Healthy Life Style

3.1 Breaking bad habits and excessive use of social media

**3.3** Food habits and sleeping habits, physical fitness, spiritual thinking

4. Social Ethic

**4.1** Humanism: Social Consciousness, Social Responsibility, Respect For Law

**4.2** Environmental Ethics; Kinds Of Pollution, Health Hazards, Climate Change, Saving The Planet

# YOGI VEMANA UNIVERSITY,KADAPA

DEPARTMENT OF ENGLISH

M.A ENGLISH LITERATURE AND LANGUAGE

SEMESTER - II

ENGYVU201: POETRY – II

With Effect From 2021-22 (Under NEP 2020 )

## Program Educational Objectives (PEOs)

- To introduce the students to the important themes in poetry fourteenth century to eighteenth century through the prescribed study.
- To acquaint the student with the nature of Works in general and in particular.
- To discuss various topics relevant to a study of the poetry.

UNIT – I

| | | |
|---|---|---|
| Background Study | : | Literary History – Genres – Movements – Ideas Trends - Concepts - Literary Terms: Dramatic Monologue |

UNIT – II

| | | |
|---|---|---|
| 1. Robert Browning | : | 1.My Last Duchess, 2.Andrea Del Sarto |
| 2. G.M. Hopkins | : | 1.The Windhover, 2.The Wreck of the Deutschland |

UNIT – III

| | | |
|---|---|---|
| 3. W.B. Yeats | : | 1. Byzantium, 2. Among School Children, |
| 4. T.S. Eliot | : | The Waste Land |

UNIT – IV

| | | |
|---|---|---|
| 5. Ted Hughes | : | 1. The Thought Fox, 2. Hawk Roosting, |
| 6. Dylan Thomas | : | Do Not Go Gentle into that Good Night |

## Programme Specific Outcomes (PSOs)

- Creates awareness of the literary movements as metaphysical, Romantic etc.
- Familiarizes literary terms as Ode, epic, satire, Elegy, lyric.
- Analyses critically the British poetry from fourteenth century to eighteen century.

## Suggested Reading


- English Verse: Voice and Movement from Wyatt to Yeats – Barnes
- Twentieth Century English Poetry: Anthony Thwaite
- Modern Poets Four (Faber and Faber, London, Rpt., 1970)
- New Bearings in English Poetry, F. R. Leavis

- The Victorian Experience: Poets – Levine
- A History of Modern Poetry – Perkins
- The Modern Poets: A Critical Introduction - M. L. Rosenthal (O.U.P)

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**Contents**


1. Background Study
   1.1 Literary History
   1.2 Genres
   1.3 Movements
   1.4 Ideas
   1.5 Trends
   1.6 Concepts
   1.7 Literary Terms: Dramatic Monologue

2.1 Robert Browning : 1.My Last Duchess, 2.Andrea Del Sarto

2.2 . G.M. Hopkins : 1.The Windhover, 2.The Wreck of the Deutschland

3.1 W.B. Yeats : 1. Byzantium, 2. Among School Children

3.2 T.S. Eliot : The Waste Land

4.1 Ted Hughes : 1. The Thought Fox, 2. Hawk Roosting,

4.2 Dylan Thomas : Do Not Go Gentle into that Good Night

# YOGI VEMANA UNIVERSITY,KADAPA

DEPARTMENT OF ENGLISH

M.A ENGLISH LITERATURE AND LANGUAGE

SEMESTER - II

ENGYVU202: DRAMA – II

With Effect From 2021-22 (Under NEP 2020 )

## Program Educational Objectives (PEOs)

- After going through the prescribed text students will be able to understand a brief account of dramatic personality and the outline of the plots prescribed study.
- After going through the prescribed text students will be able to understand themes motifs and symbols of the prescribed text.
- After going through the prescribed text students will be able to understand critical analysis of the prescribed plays.

UNIT - I

Background Study : Literary History – Genres – Movements – Idea – Trends – Concepts

UNIT – II

1. G.B. Shaw : Pygmalion
2. Christopher Fry : The Lady's Not for Burning

UNIT – III

3. John Osborne : Look Back in Anger
4. Harold Pinter : The Birthday Party

UNIT – IV

5. Samuel Beckett : Waiting for Godot
6. J. M. Synge : Riders to the Sea

## Program Specific Outcomes (PSOs)

- Develops insights into various literary genres, movements, ideas, trends and concepts during the time.
- Traces the development of British drama from 19th century to 21st century.

## Suggested Reading:


- Drama from Ibsen to Brecht – Raymond Williams (Penguin Books, 1973)
- Contemporary British Drama - Berney and Templeton (1994)
- Modern British Dramatists - John Russell Brown (Eaglewood Ciffs, NJ, 1968)
- The Theatre of Revolt: An Approach to Modern Drama - Robert Burstein (Atlantic monthly press, New York, 1965)
- Revolution in Modern English Drama - Katherine J. Worth (Bell, London, 1972)
- Anger and After: Guide to the New British Drama - John Russell Taylor (Eyre Methune, London, 1977)


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**Content**

1.Background Study

1.1 Literary History

1.2 Genres

1.3 Movements

1.4 Idea

1.5 Trends

1.6 Concepts

2.1 G.B. Shaw : Pygmalion

2.2 Christopher Fry : The Lady's Not for Burning

3.1 John Osborne : Look Back in Anger

3.2 Harold Pinter : The Birthday Party

4.1 Samuel Beckett : Waiting for Godot

4.2 J. M. Synge : Riders to the Sea

# YOGI VEMANA UNIVERSITY,KADAPA

DEPARTMENT OF ENGLISH

M.A ENGLISH LITERATURE AND LANGUAGE

SEMESTER - II

ENGYVU203: FICTION – II

With Effect From 2021-22(Under NEP 2020)

## Program Educational Objectives (PEOs)

- After going through the prescribed text students will be able to understand to study the conditions of the Sensibility in the novels
- To study the characterization from an ironic point of view.
- To study the narrative plot. To study the sturdy rich yet fateful Agrarian background of Hardy's narrative world.
- To study the historical background of war and aesthetic background.

UNIT – I

| | | |
|---|---|---|
| Background Study | : | Literary History – Genres – Movements – Ideas – Trends – Concepts |

UNIT – II

| | | |
|---|---|---|
| 1. Sir Walter Scott | : | The Heart of Mid Lothian |
| 2. Virginia Woolf | : | Mrs. Dalloway |

UNIT – III

| | | |
|---|---|---|
| 3. James Joyce | : | The Portrait of an Artist as a Young Man |
| 4. D. H. Lawrence | : | Women in Love |

Unit - IV

| | | |
|---|---|---|
| 5. William Golding | : | Lord of the Flies |
| 6. Graham Greene | : | The Power and the Glory |

## Program Specific Outcomes (PSOs)

- Familiarizes with the literary history genres, movements, ideas, trends and concepts of that period.
- Studies novels written by the novelists as representatives of their time.

## Suggested Reading:

- The Cambridge History of English Literature

- The English Novel: A Short Critical History – Walter Allen, Penguin Books, Harmonsds worth
- An Introduction to the English Novel Vols. 1 & 2 – Arnold Kettle, Hutchinson & Co.
- The Literature of the Victorian Era – Hugh Walker, S. Chand & Co., New Delhi
- The English Novel – David Skelton
- The Growth of the English Novel – Richard Church

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Content


1. 1. Background Study
2. 1.1 Literary History
1.2 Genres
1.3 Movements
1.4 Ideas
1.5 Trends
1.6 Concepts

2.1 Sir Walter Scott : The Heart of Mid Lothian
2.2 Virginia Woolf : Mrs. Dalloway

3.1 James Joyce : The Portrait of an Artist as a Young Man
3.2 D. H. Lawrence : Women in Love

4.1 William Golding : Lord of the Flies
4.2 Graham Greene : The Power and the Glory

# YOGI VEMANA UNIVERSITY,KADAPA

DEPARTMENT OF ENGLISH

M.A ENGLISH LITERATURE AND LANGUAGE

SEMESTER - II

ENGYVU204: ENGLISH LANGUAGE TEACHING

FOUNDATION COURSE (A)

With Effect From 2021-22(Under NEP 2020)

## Program Educational Objectives (PEOs)

- Aware of the distinction between language acquisition and language learning
- Knowing about the problems of teaching English as a Second Langauge and gaining insights on current trends in ELT.
- Familiar about certain theories of language learning and methods of ELT.
- Gaining comprehension about approaches of Teaching LSRW skills, poetry and prose.
- Familiar about materials of teaching and learning English.
- Conversant with the aspects involved in CALT and CALL.

UNIT – I

A. Language Acquisition and Second Language Learning
Basic Principles of English Language Teaching

B. Problems of Teaching / Learning English as a Second Language in the Indian Context - Current Trends of Teaching English in India.

UNIT – II

A Teaching of English Language – Theories of Language Learning (Behavioural, Cognitive and Constructivist)

B. Methods – Direct, Grammar Translation – Bilingual –- Communicative Language Teaching

UNIT – III

A. Teaching poetry & Prose from Language Perspective

B. Teaching LSRW Skills

UNIT – IV

A. Materials and Tools – Development of Sources for Teaching – News Papers

B. Advertisements – Magazines – Utility of Language Lab for Teaching and Learning of English.

## Program Specific Outcomes (PSOs)

- Creates familiarity about the distinction between language acquisition and language learning.
- Familiarizes about the principles of ELT and current trends of Teaching and Learning.

- To provide understanding on important theories of language learning and methods of teaching English.
- Develops insights of teaching poetry, prose and LSRW Skills.
- Offers awareness about materials for ELT and the use of terminology including CALL and CALT.

Suggested Reading


- The Study of Language, George Yule, Cambridge University Press, VI edition 2017.
- Techniques and Principles of Language Teaching, Diane Larsen Freeman and Marti Anderson Publication 2013.
- Methods of Teaching English – N. Krishnaswamy and Lalitha Krishna Swamy, Macmillon Publishers 2014.
- Teaching and learning English M.c Tickoo A Source Book for Teachers and Teacher Trainers, Oxford University Press, 2015.


**Content**

1.1 . Language Acquisition and Second Language Learning Basic Principles of English Language Teaching

1.2 Problems of Teaching / Learning English as a Second Language in the Indian Context - Current Trends of Teaching English in India.

2.1 Teaching of English Language – Theories of Language Learning (Behavioural, Cognitive and Constructivist)

2.2 Methods – Direct, Grammar Translation – Bilingual –- Communicative Language Teaching

3.1 Teaching poetry & Prose from Language Perspective

3.2 Teaching LSRW Skills

4.1 Materials and Tools – Development of Sources for Teaching – News Papers

4.2 Advertisements – Magazines – Utility of Language Lab for Teaching and Learning of English.

# YOGI VEMANA UNIVERSITY,KADAPA

DEPARTMENT OF ENGLISH

M.A ENGLISH LITERATURE AND LANGUAGE

SEMESTER - II

ENGYVU204 (B): SOCIO LINGUISTICS

INTERNAL ELECTIVE (B)

With Effect From 2021-22(Under NEP 2020)

## Program Educational Objectives (PEOs)

- To gain insights on role and scope of Socio Linguistics as an important branch of study.
- To obtain awareness and understanding on the pioneering concepts put forth by significant theorists.
- To develop understanding about language communities and a few important practices related to sociolinguistics.
- To create understanding on the role of language teacher and pedagogical transactions involved in language teaching.

UNIT – I

A. Conceptual Understanding of Society, Culture and Language
B. Sociolinguistics- Importance- Scope and Dimensions of Study- Sociology of Language

UNIT – II

A. Significant theorists and their postulates –
Roman Jacobson's Six Functions of Language
B.Robinson's Contribution- Dell Hymes 's Speaking Model

UNIT – III

A. Awareness on Languages and Communities, Languages, Dialects and Varieties Pidgins and Creoles
B. Bilingualism, Multilingualism, Code-Switching Language
and Class Language and Gender

UNIT – IV

A. Pedagogic Concerns - Language Planning,
B. Language Teaching, Competencies and Role of a Language Teacher

## Program Specific Outcomes (PSOs)

- Comprehend the scope and role of Sociolinguistics as a seminal field of study.
- Develop theoretical understanding and apply the concepts of some of the major exponents in the field of Socio-linguistics.
- Gain perception about language communities and important practices in Sociolinguistics.

- Obtain sufficient understanding about the role of language teacher and certain pedagogical practices.

## Suggested Reading


- The Study of Language , George Yule , Cambridge University Press , Sixth Edition ,2017
- Wardhaugh, Ronald S. An Introduction to Sociolinguistics. Blackwell Publishing. 2006.
- Spolsky, B. Sociolinguistics: Oxford: OUP.1998.
- Stern, H.H. Fundamental Concepts of Language Teaching. OUP. 1983.
- Trudgill, Peter. Sociolinguistics: An Introduction to Language and Society, Penguin Books.2000


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**Content**

1.1 Conceptual Understanding of Society, Culture and Language
1.2 Sociolinguistics
1.3 Importance
1.4 Scope and Dimensions of Study
1.5 Sociology of Language

2.1 Significant theorists and their postulates
**2.2** Roman Jacobson's Six Functions of Language
2.3 Robinson's Contribution
2.4 Dell Hymes 's Speaking Model

3.1 Awareness on Languages and Communities, Languages, Dialects and Varieties Pidgins and Creoles
3.2 Bilingualism, Multilingualism, Code-Switching Language and Class Language and Gender

4.1 Pedagogic Concerns
4.2 Language Planning
4.3 Language Teaching, Competencies and Role of a Language Teacher

# YOGI VEMANA UNIVERSITY,KADAPA

DEPARTMENT OF ENGLISH

M.A ENGLISH LITERATURE AND LANGUAGE

SEMESTER - II

ENGYVU205: PROSE – II

INTERNAL ELECTIVE (A)

With Effect From 2021-22(Under NEP 2020)

## Program Educational Objectives (PEOs)

- To develop the imagination and fancy of the students.
- To acquaints the students with the style of the writer.
- To develop their love for natural objects.
- To develop their aesthetic sense.
- To develop the habit of thinking among the students.

UNIT – I

| | | |
|---|---|---|
| Background Study | : | Literary History – Genres – Movements – Ideas Trends – Concepts |

UNIT – II

| | | |
|---|---|---|
| 1. Matthew Arnold | : | Sweetness and Light (From Culture and Anarchy) |
| 2. John Ruskin | : | Sesame and Lilies |

UNIT – III

| | | |
|---|---|---|
| 3. Virginia Woolf | : | A Room of One's Own |
| 4. George Orwell | : | Politics and English Language |

UNIT – IV

| | | |
|---|---|---|
| 5. W.M. Thackery | : | 1.On a Chalk Mark on the Door<br>2. Nill Nisi Bonum |
| 6. Robert Lynd | : | 1. On Going Abroad<br>2. A Dissappointed Man. |

## Program Specific Outcomes (PSOs)

- Familiarizes students with the Victorian and modern centuries of the time.
- Studies selected prose pieces of the renowned essayists of the time.

## Suggested Reading

- The Cambridge History of English Literature
- Francis Bacon and Renaissance Prose – Brian Vickers, Cambridge University Press

- Seventeenth Century Prose: Modern Essays in Criticism – Stanley Fish, Oxford University Press
- Anatomy of Prose – Marjorie Boulton, Kalyani Publishers, New Delhi
- The Literature of the Victorian Era – Hugh Walker, S. Chand & Co., New Delhi


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**Contents**

1. Background Study
   1.1 Literary History
   1.2 Genres
   1.3 Movements
   1.4 Ideas
   1.5 Trends
   1.6 Concepts

2.1 Matthew Arnold : Sweetness and Light (From Culture and Anarchy)
2.2 John Ruskin : Sesame and Lilies

3.1 Virginia Woolf : A Room of One's Own
3.2 George Orwell : Politics and English Language

4.1 W.M. Thackery : 1.On a Chalk Mark on the Door
2. Nill Nisi Bonum

4.2 Robert Lynd : 1. On Going Abroad
2. A Dissappointed Man

# YOGI VEMANA UNIVERSITY,KADAPA

DEPARTMENT OF ENGLISH

M.A ENGLISH LITERATURE AND LANGUAGE

SEMESTER - II

ENGYVU 205: COMMUNICATION AND SOFTSKILLS – I

INTERNAL ELECTIVE (B)

With Effect From 2021-22(Under NEP 2020)

## Program Educational Objectives (PEOs)

- The primary objective of communication in management is to convey information—instructions, policies, procedures, decisions, etc., so the listener will hear, read, understand what is said, agree and accept the message, and react as intended by the manager or sender of communication.
- Students will be able to understand the research methods associated with the study of human communication, and apply at least one of those approaches to the analysis and evaluation of human communication.
- Students will be able to find, use, and evaluate primary academic writing associated with the communication discipline.

UNIT I.

Communication : A.a. Aspects of Communication
b. Types of Communication
c. Verbal and Non-verbal Communication
B.a. Characteristics of Successful Communication
b Principles and Barriers of Communication

UNIT II .

Listening : A.a. The Listening Process b. Types of Listening
B.a. Principles of Good Listening b. Listening with a purpose
c. Barriers to Listening

UNIT III

Speaking: A. a. Factors of Speech Process b. Conversation Skills
c. Strategies of Good Conversation
B. a. Improving Self Expression & Fluency b. English Pronunciation
c. Speech Techniques

UNIT IV

Writing: A. a. Principles of Effective Writing
b. Formal and Informal Letter Writing
B. a. E-mail b. Resume & Job application

## Program Specific Outcomes (PSOs)

- Students will be able to find, use, and evaluate primary academic writing associated with the communication discipline.
- Students will develop knowledge, skills, and judgment around human communication that facilitate their ability to work collaboratively with others. Such skills could include communication competencies such as managing conflict, understanding small group processes, active listening, appropriate self-disclosure, etc.

## Suggested Reading:


- Essentials of Business Communication by Rajendra Rao
- A Course in Listening and Speaking II
- Business Correspondence and Report Writing R.C. Sharma Krishna Mohan
- The Oxford Guide to Writing and Speaking by John Seely, (Oxford)
- Developing Communication Skills by Krishna Mohan & Meera Benerji, Macmillan.
- Effective Technical Communication – M. Ashraf Rizvi (Tata Mc Grew Hill)
- Communication – C.S. Rayudu, Himalaya Publishing House
- Business Communication – D.D. Chaturvedi, Mukesh Chaturvedi (Pearson Edu.)
- Communication Skills – Dr. Nageshwara Rao, Dr. Rajendra P. Das (Himalaya Publication House)


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Contents

1. Communication

1.1 Aspects of Communication

1.2 Types of Communication

1.3 Verbal and Non-verbal Communication

1.4 Characteristics of Successful Communication

1.5 Principles and Barriers of Communication

2. Listening

2.1 The Listening Process

2.2 Types of Listening

2.3 Principles of Good Listening

2.4 Listening with a purpose

2.5 Barriers to Listening

3. Speaking

3.1Factors of Speech Process

3.2 Conversation Skills

3.3 Strategies of Good Conversation

3.4 Improving Self Expression & Fluency

3.5 English Pronunciation

3.6 Speech Techniques

4. Writing

4.1 Principles of Effective Writing

4.2 Formal and Informal Letter Writing

4.3 E-mail b. Resume & Job application

# YOGI VEMANA UNIVERSITY,KADAPA

DEPARTMENT OF ENGLISH

M.A ENGLISH LITERATURE AND LANGUAGE

SEMESTER - II

ENGYVU206: ESSENTIAL COMMUNICATION SKILLS IN ENGLISH – I

OPEN ELECTIVE (A)

With Effect From 2021-22(Under NEP 2020)

## Program Educational Objectives (PEOs)

- To enhance the learner's communication skills by giving adequate exposure in LSRW listening, speaking, reading and writing skills and the related sub-skills.
- To help the learners recognize and operate in various styles and registers in English.
- To help the learner get rid of his present flaws and mistakes in pronunciation and grammar.
- To impart better writing skills by sensitizing the learners to the dynamics of effective writing.
- To build up the learners confidence in oral and interpersonal communication by reinforcing the basics of pronunciation specially focusing on interviews / corporate meetings / international business travels.
- Enabling the learner to achieve adequate linguistic skills to help him compete international certification tests of English such as IELTS and TOEFL.

UNIT I. Communication :1. Objectives of Communication 2. Types of Communication
3. Verbal and Non-verbal Communication
4. Characteristics of Successful Communication
5 Principles and Barriers of Communication

UNIT II. Listening : 1. The Listening Process 2. Types of Listening
3. Principles of Good Listening 4. Listening with a purpose
5. Barriers to Listening

UNIT III Speaking: 1. Phonetics 2. Syllable 3. Word Stress
4. Accent and Rhythm in Connected Speech
5. Intonation `
6. American and British Accents

UNIT IV Writing: 1. Principles of Effective writing
2. Formal and Informal Letter Writing 3. E-mail
4. Resume & Job application

## Program Specific Outcomes (PSOs)

- Students will develop knowledge, skills, and judgment around human communication that facilitate their ability to work collaboratively with others.
- Such skills could include communication competencies such as managing conflict, understanding small group processes, active listening, appropriate self-disclosure, etc.

## Suggested Reading :


- Essentials of Business Communication by Rajendra Rao
- A Course in Listening and Speaking II
- Business Correspondence and Report Writing R.C. Sharma Krishna Mohan
- The Oxford Guide to Writing and Speaking by John Seely, (Oxford)
- Developing Communication Skills by Krishna Mohan & Meera Benerji, Macmillan.
- Effective Technical Communication – M. Ashraf Rizvi (Tata Mc Grew Hill)
- Communication – C.S. Rayudu, Himalaya Publishing House
- Business Communication – D.D. Chaturvedi, Mukesh Chaturvedi (Pearson Edu.)
- Communication Skills – Dr. Nageshwara Rao, Dr. Rajendra P. Das (Himalaya Publication House)


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# Contents

1. Communication

1.1 Objectives of Communication

1.2. Types of Communication

1.3. Verbal and Non-verbal Communication

1.4. Characteristics of Successful Communication

1.5 Principles and Barriers of Communication

2. Listening

2.1 . The Listening Process

2.2 Types of Listening

2.3. Principles of Good Listening

2.4. Listening with a purpose

2. 5. Barriers to Listening

3. Speaking

3.1 Phonetics

3.2. Syllable

3.3. Word Stress

3.4. Accent and Rhythm in Connected Speech

3.5. Intonation `

3. 6. American and British Accents

4. Writing

4.1 Principles of Effective writing

4. 2. Formal and Informal Letter Writing

4.3. E-mail

4. 4. Resume & Job application

# YOGI VEMANA UNIVERSITY,KADAPA

DEPARTMENT OF ENGLISH

M.A ENGLISH LITERATURE AND LANGUAGE

SEMESTER - III

ENGYVU301: INDIAN ENGLISH LITERATURE-I

With Effect From 2021-22(Under NEP 2020)

## Program Educational Objectives (PEOs)

- Gaining exposure about growth of Indian English Literature in the post independent era.
- Critiquing the prescribed works of poetry, fiction, drama and prose.
- Understand the thematic concerns, style and literary sensibility of the writers.

UNIT – I

Background Study :Literary History – Genres – Movements – Ideas – Trends – Concepts

UNIT – II

1. Mulk Raj Anand : Untouchable
2. R. K. Narayan : The Financial Expert

UNIT – III

3. Toru Dutt : 1.Sita, 2.Near Hasting, 3.The Lotus
4. Sarojini Naidu : 1.Summer Woods,
   2. Palanquin Bearers,
   3. Soul's Prayer

UNIT – IV :

5. Rabindranath Tagore : Post Office.
6. Dr. B.R.Ambedkar : On the Way to Goregoan

## Program Specific Outcomes (PSOs)

- Creates understanding on the origin and growth of Indian English literature.
- Develops literary sensibility by prescribing study works of literature authored by early Indian writers in English.
- Exposes the students to different genres of Indian English Literature.
- Fosters critical aptitude of interpreting and analyzing the prescribed text in Indian English Literature.

## Suggested Reading:


- Aspects of the novel- E.M.Forster Dover Publications 2022
- Indian writings in English. K.R. Srinivas Iyenger Sterling Publishers, 1987.
- A History of Indian English Literature – M.K Naik , Sahithya Academy Publication.
- Twice born Fiction- Meenakshi Mukherjee, Published by Pencraft International, 2015.

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Contents

1. Background Study

1.1 Literary History

1.2 Genres

1.3 Movements

1.4 Ideas

1.5 Trends

1.6 Concepts

2.1 Mulk Raj Anand : Untouchable

2.2 R. K. Narayan : The Financial Expert

3.1 Toru Dutt : 1.Sita, 2.Near Hasting, 3.The Lotus

3.2 Sarojini Naidu : 1.Summer Woods,
2. Palanquin Bearers,
3. Soul's Prayer

4.1 Rabindranath Tagore : Post Office.

4.2 Dr. B.R.Ambedkar : On the Way to Goregoan

# YOGI VEMANA UNIVERSITY,KADAPA

DEPARTMENT OF ENGLISH

M.A ENGLISH LITERATURE AND LANGUAGE

SEMESTER - III

ENGYVU302: AMERICAN LITERATURE - I

With Effect From 2021-22(Under NEP 2020)

## Program Educational Objectives (PEOs)

- To introduce the students to the important themes and to brings out the hidden struggle for self reliance through the prescribed text.
- To acquaint the student with the nature of Works in general and civil disobedience in particular.
- To discuss various topics relevant to a study of the American literature.

UNIT – I

Background Study : Literary History – Genres – Movements – Ideas – Trends – Concepts

UNIT – II

1. Emerson : 1.The American Scholar, 2.Bramha, 3.Concord Hymn
2. H.D. Thoreau : Civil Disobedience

UNIT – III

3. Walt Whitman : 1. I hear America Singing 2. O! Captain!,My Captain, 3. Song of Myself
4. Emily Dickinson : 1.Much Madness is Divinest Sense, 2. Success is counted Sweetest

UNIT – IV

5. Mark Twain: The Adventures of Huckleberry Finn
6. Nathaniel Hawthorne: The Scarlet Letter

## Program Specific Outcomes (PSOs)

- Provides an understanding of the origin and development of American literature.
- Studies selected writings of the most respective American poets, dramatists and novelists.
- Familiarizes with the literary history genres, movements, ideas, trends and concepts connected with the time.

## Suggested Reading

- The American Tradition in Literature 2 vols. – S. Bradley, ed. (W. W. Norton and Co., New York, 1962)

- Backgrounds of American Literary Thought - W. Rod Horton and Herbert Edwards (Prentince-hall, New York, 1967)
- The Cycle of American Literature – Robert E. Spiller (The Free Press, New York, 1967)
- The American Classics Revisited: recent studies of American literature – P. C. Kar and Ramakrishna, eds. (American Studies Research Centre, Hyderabad, 1985)
- Fifty Years of American Drama - Alan Dower (Regonary, Chicago, 1951)
- The Literature of United States of America - Marshall Walker (Macmillan Education Ltd, 1988)

Contents

1. Background Study

1.1 Literary History

1.2 Genres

1.3 Movements

1.4 Ideas

1.5 Trends

1.6 Concepts

2.1 Emerson : 1.The American Scholar, 2.Bramha, 3.Concord Hymn

2.2 H.D. Thoreau : Civil Disobedience

3.1 Walt Whitman : 1. I hear America Singing 2. O! Captain!,My Captain,
3. Song of Myself

3.2 Emily Dickinson : 1.Much Madness is Divinest Sense,
2. Success is counted Sweetest

4.1 Mark Twain : The Adventures of Huckleberry Finn

4.2 Nathaniel Hawthorne: The Scarlet Letter

# YOGI VEMANA UNIVERSITY,KADAPA

DEPARTMENT OF ENGLISH

M.A ENGLISH LITERATURE AND LANGUAGE

SEMESTER - III

ENGYVU303: LITERARY CRITICISM – I

With Effect From 2021-22(Under NEP 2020)

## Program Educational Objectives (PEOs)

- This course aims to develop student's ability to understand and to criticize a literary piece.
- To equip the students knowledge of key forms and terminology of literary criticism, to ability to read the writings of literary scholars and critics with understanding and judicious appreciation.
- To acquire basic theoretical concepts underlying contemporary approaches to literature and the major differences between them.

UNIT – I

Background Study : Literary History – Genres – Movements – Idea – Trends – Concepts

UNIT – II

1. Aristotle : Poetics
2. Samuel Johnson : The Preface to Shakespeare

UNIT -III

3. Coleridge : Biographia Literaria, Chapter XIV
4. Matthew Arnold : A Study of Poetry

UNIT – IV

5. T.S. Eliot : Tradition and the Individual Talent
6. Cleanth Brooks : Irony as a Principle of Structure

## Program Specific Outcomes (PSOs)

- Develops a critical attitude to the students to analyze drama, poetry.
- Traces the origin and development of Greek literary criticism and to analyze various critical works of the romantic, Victorian and modern period.

## Suggested Reading:


- Ernst De Chickera D J Enright: English Critical Texts
- Martin Tucker: A Library of Literary Criticism.
- Patricia Waugh: Literary Theory & Criticism : An Oxford Guide.
- M.S.Naagarajaw: English Literary Criticism & Theory2006.

Contents

1. Background Study
   1.1 Literary History
   1.2 Genres
   1.3 Movements
   1.4 Idea
   1.5 Trends
   1.6 Concepts

2.1 Aristotle : Poetics
2.2 Samuel Johnson : The Preface to Shakespeare

3.1 Coleridge : Biographia Literaria, Chapter XIV
3.2 Matthew Arnold : A Study of Poetry

4.1 T.S. Eliot : Tradition and the Individual Talent
4.2 Cleanth Brooks : Irony as a Principle of Structure

# YOGI VEMANA UNIVERSITY,KADAPA

DEPARTMENT OF ENGLISH

M.A ENGLISH LITERATURE AND LANGUAGE

SEMESTER - III

ENGYVU304 NEW LITERATURES IN ENGLISH – I

INTERNAL ELECTIVE (A)

With Effect From 2021-22(Under NEP 2020)

## Program Educational Objectives (PEOs)

- To introduce the students the important themes in New Literature through the prescribed study.
- To acquaint the student with the nature of common wealth writer's Works in general and African, Canadian and Caribbean in particular.
- To discuss various topics relevant to a study of New Literature in English

UNIT – I

| | | |
|---|---|---|
| Background Study | : | Literary History – Genres – Movements – Ideas – Trends – Concepts |

UNIT - II

| | | |
|---|---|---|
| 1. A.D. Hope | : | 1.Australia,<br>2. The Death of the Bird |
| 2. Judith Wright | : | 1.The Old Prison,<br>2. Lyre Birds |

UNIT -III

| | | |
|---|---|---|
| 3. Gabriel Okara | : | The Piano and Drums (Select poems) |
| 4. Wole Soyinka | : | The Lion and the Jewel |

UNIT – IV

| | | |
|---|---|---|
| 5. Ngugi Wa Thiango | : | Weep Not, Child |
| 6. Buchi Emecheta | : | The Joys of Motherhood |

## Program Specific Outcomes (PSOs)

- Studies development of new literature in commonwealth countries and in nations other then Britain. Australia, Canadian, African literature.
- Studies important movements, concepts, trends of the natives of different regions other than Britain

## Suggested Reading

- The Post-Colonial Theory – Leela Gandhi (Oxford, 1998)

- Colonial Encounter: A Reading of Six Novels - Molly Mahood (Rex Collins, London, 1977)
- The Empire Writes Back - Bill Ashcroft et al (eds.) (Routledge, London, 1989)
- A Manifold Voice - Studies in Commonwealth Literature – William Walsh (London, 1970)
- Literature of the World in English - Bruce King
- Awakened Conscience - C. D. Narasimhaiah (1978)
- African Literature: A Critical View - David Cook (Longman, London, 1977)
- The Literature of Australia - Geoffrey Dutton
- Survival: A Thematic Guide to Australian Literature - Margaret Atwood
- Homecoming: Essays on African and Caribbean Literature, Culture and Politics - Ngugi Wa Thiongo (Heinemann, London, 1972

# Content

1. Background Study
   1.1 Literary History
   1.2 Genres
   1.3 Movements
   1.4 Ideas
   1.5 Trends
   1.6 Concepts

2.1 A.D. Hope : 1.Australia,
2. The Death of the Bird

2.2 Judith Wright : 1.The Old Prison,
2. Lyre Birds

3.1 Gabriel Okara : The Piano and Drums (Select poems)

3.2 Wole Soyinka : The Lion and the Jewel

4.1 Ngugi Wa Thiango : Weep Not, Child

4.2 Buchi Emecheta : The Joys of Motherhood

# YOGI VEMANA UNIVERSITY,KADAPA

DEPARTMENT OF ENGLISH

M.A ENGLISH LITERATURE AND LANGUAGE

SEMESTER - III

ENGYVU304 : ECO – LITERATURE

INTERNAL ELECTIVE (B)

With Effect From 2021-22(Under NEP 2020)

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## Program Educational Objectives (PEOs)

- Eco-literature lays stress on ecological issues.
- Cli-fi (climate fiction)deals with climate change and global warming,
- It is logically a sub-set of eco-literature.
- This genre looks at human activities that have been killing nature slowly.

UNIT-I Background Study : Ecology – Sustainable Design- Bio Politics – Environmentalism – Social Ecology – Anthropocentricism – Bio-Centricism Eco-Centricism, Eco-Criticism – Cli Fiction

UNIT-II Poetry

1. Sean Hewitt : 1.Dryad 2. Ghost
2. Valarie Dohrain : 1.After the Rain 2. Alone

UNIT –III Fiction:

3. John Steinbeck : The Grapes of Wrath
4. Svetlana Alexievich : Chernobyl Prayer

UNIT- IV Eco Criticism:

5. Joseph Meaker : The Comedy of Survival: Studies in Literary Ecology
6. William Rueckert : Literature and Ecology: An Experiment in Ecocriticism

Program Specific Outcomes (PSOs)

- Cli-fi often ventures into the realms of the narratives gets rooted in future.
- Focuses on "the application of ecology and ecological concepts to the study of literature"

Suggested Reading:


- Eco Criticism Swarnalatha Rangarajan Orient Black Swan Publications
- Louise Westling Literature and The Environment Cambridge Companion To Literature, CUP
- Eco Critical Readings – Partridge, A Penguine Random House Company
- Rethinking Nature and Environment: Shivani. Jah, House Company
- The Comedy of Survival: Studies in Literary Ecology 1972.

Contents

1. Background Study

1.1 Ecology

1.2 Sustainable Design

1.3 Bio Politics

1.4 Environmentalism

1.5 Social Ecology

1.6 Anthropocentricism

1.7 Bio-Centricism

1.8 Eco-Centricism, Eco-Criticism

1.9 Cli Fiction

2.1 Sean Hewitt : 1.Dryad 2. Ghost

2.2 Valarie Dohrain : 1.After the Rain 2. Alone

3. Fiction:

3.1 John Steinbeck : The Grapes of Wrath

3.2 Svetlana Alexievich : Chernobyl Prayer

4. Eco Criticism:

4.1 Joseph Meaker : The Comedy of Survival: Studies in Literary Ecology

4.2 William Rueckert : Literature and Ecology: An Experiment in Ecocriticism

# YOGI VEMANA UNIVERSITY,KADAPA

DEPARTMENT OF ENGLISH

M.A ENGLISH LITERATURE AND LANGUAGE

SEMESTER - III

ENGYVU305 – ESSENTIALS OF RESEARCH

Internal Elective –(A)

With Effect From 2021-22(Under NEP 2020)

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## Program Educational Objectives (PEOs)

- To define the Specific objectives and the primary aim of the study.
- Help define who, what, why, when and how to conduct the research project.
- The main objective of research is easier to develop and pursue a plan of action.

UNIT-I

A). Definition of Research - Types of Research - Purpose and importance.

B). Significance of Research. Steps involved in Research - Social & Academic Relevance.

UNIT-II

A) Identifying the Research Problem - Review of Literature - Sources of Literature

B) Basic Methodology of conducting Research - Tools of Analysis - Presenting the Findings.

UNIT-III

A). Fundamentals of Research Writing - Features of Research Paper Basic

B).Awareness about Research Manuals - Ethics of Research.

UNIT-IV

A).Fundamentals of Research Proposal & Research Paper - Analysis, Objectives.

B).Methodology Research - Identifying Research gaps, Model Research Proposals and Papers.

## Program Specific Outcomes (PSOs)

- Specific objectives define the primary aim of the study.
- Helps define the who, what, why, when and how to conduct the research project.
- The main objective of research is easier to develop and pursue a plan of action.

Suggested Reading:


- Research Methodology :Methods and Techniques, C.R Kolhar (New Age Publications)
- Research Methods in English : M.P.Sinha(Atlantic Publishers & Distributors Pvt Ltd.) ISBN: 9788126903580, 9788126903580.


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# Contents

1.1 Definition of Research

1.2 Types of Research

1.3 Purpose and importance.

1.4 Significance of Research. Steps involved in Research

1.5 Social & Academic Relevance.

2.1 Identifying the Research Problem

2.2 Review of Literature

2.3 Sources of Literature

2.4 Basic Methodology of conducting Research

2.5 Tools of Analysis

2.6 Presenting the Findings.

3.1 Fundamentals of Research Writing

3.2 Features of Research Paper Basic

3.3 Awareness about Research Manuals

3.4 Ethics of Research

4.1 Fundamentals of Research Proposal & Research Paper

4.2 Analysis, Objectives

4.3 Methodology Research

4.4 Identifying Research gaps, Model Research Proposals and Papers.

# YOGI VEMANA UNIVERSITY,KADAPA

DEPARTMENT OF ENGLISH

M.A ENGLISH LITERATURE AND LANGUAGE

SEMESTER - III

ENGYVU305 – COMMUNICATION AND SOFT SKILLS – ll

Internal Elective –(B)

With Effect From 2021-22(Under NEP 2020)

## Program Educational Objectives (PEOs)

- To enhance the learner's communication skills by giving adequate exposure in LSRW listening, speaking, reading and writing skills and the related sub-skills.
- To help the learners recognize and operate in various styles and registers in English.
- To help the learner get rid of his present flaws and mistakes in pronunciation and grammar.
- To help the learner identify and repair the voids in his present vocabulary and pronunciation targeting those specific array of words which create a barrier in his thought process.

UNIT I. Listening :

1. Listening Comprehension 2. Effective Listening Strategies
3. Listening to structured Talks 4. Intensive Listening
5. Team Listening (Listening & Note Taking)

UNIT II. Speaking :

1. Oral Communication 2. Presentation Skills
3. Use of Visual Aids 4. Group Discussion 5. Facing Interviews

UNIT III. Reading :

1. Types of Reading 2. Understanding the Gist of an Argument

- Familiarizes the students with various communication and language (LSRW) skills in English.
- Enables them to teach communication skills for Regular and Professional courses.

Suggested Reading:

3. Identifying the Topic Sentence

UNIT IV. Writing :

1. Paragraph Writing 2. Report Writing
3. Minutes Drafting 4. Information Transfer
5. Interpreting Data Editing a Passage

Program Specific Outcomes (PSOs)

- Essentials of Business Communication by Rajendra Rao
- A Course in Listening and Speaking II
- The Oxford Guide to Writing and Speaking by John Seely, Oxford

- Developing Communication Skills by Krishna Mohan and Meera Benerji (Macmilan)
- Speaking English Effectively by Krishna Mohan and N.P. Singh (Macmilan)
- Effective Technical Communication – M. Ashraf Rizvi (Tata Mc Grew Hill)
- Communication – C.S. Rayudu, Himalaya Publishing House
- Business Communication – D.D. Chaturvedi, Mukesh Chaturvedi (Pearson Edu.)
- Communication Skills – Dr. Nageshwara Rao, Dr. Rajendra P. Das (Himalaya Publication,House)

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# Contents

1. Listening

1.1 Listening Comprehension

1.2 Effective Listening Strategies

1. 3 Listening to structured Talks

1.4. Intensive Listening

1.5. Team Listening (Listening & Note Taking)

2. Speaking

2.1 Oral Communication

2.2. Presentation Skills

2.3. Use of Visual Aids

2 4. Group Discussion

2.5. Facing Interviews

3. Reading

3.1 Types of Reading

3.2. Understanding the Gist of an Argument

3.3. Identifying the Topic Sentence

4. Writing

4.1 Paragraph Writing

4.2. Report Writing

4.3. Minutes Drafting

4.4. Information Transfer

4. 5 Interpreting Data Editing a Passage

# YOGI VEMANA UNIVERSITY,KADAPA

DEPARTMENT OF ENGLISH

M.A ENGLISH LITERATURE AND LANGUAGE

SEMESTER - III

ENGYVU306 : ESSENTIAL COMMUNICATION SKILLS –II

OPEN ELECTIVE (A)

With Effect From 2021-22(Under NEP 2020)

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## Program Educational Objectives (PEOs)

- To enhance the learner's communication skills by giving adequate exposure in LSRW listening, speaking, reading and writing skills and the related sub-skills.
- To help the learners recognize and operate in various styles and registers in English.
- To help the learner get rid of his present flaws and mistakes in pronunciation and grammar.
- To help the learner identify and repair the voids in his present vocabulary and pronunciation targeting those specific array of words which create a barrier in his thought process.
- To impart better writing skills by sensitizing the learners to the dynamics of effective writing.
- To build up the learners confidence in oral and interpersonal communication by reinforcing the basics of pronunciation specially focusing on interviews / corporate meetings / international business travels.
- Enabling the learner to achieve adequate linguistic skills to help him compete international certification tests of English such as IELTS and TOEFL

UNIT I. Listening : 1. Listening Comprehension 2. Effective Listening Strategies
3. Listening to Structured Talks 4. Intensive Listening
5.Team Listening (Listening & Note Taking)

UNIT II. Speaking : 1. Oral Communication 2. Presentation Skills
3. Use of Visual Aids 4. Group Discussions 5. Facing Interviews

UNIT III Reading : 1. Types of Reading 2. Understanding the gist of an Argument
3. Identifying the Topic Sentence

UNIT IV Writing : 1. Paragraph Writing 2. Report Writing 3. Minutes Drafting
4. Information Transfer 5. Interpreting data Editing a Passage

Program Specific Outcomes (PSOs)

- Students will develop knowledge, skills, and judgment around human communication that facilitate their ability to work collaboratively with others.
- Such skills could include communication competencies such as managing conflict, understanding small group processes, active listening, appropriate self-disclosure, etc.

Suggested Reading:


- Essentials of Business Communication by Rajendra Rao
- A Course in Listening and Speaking II
- The Oxford Guide to Writing and Speaking by John Seely, Oxford
- Developing Communication Skills by Krishna Mohan and Meera Benerji (Macmilan)
- Speaking English Effectively by Krishna Mohan and N.P. Singh (Macmilan)
- Effective Technical Communication – M. Ashraf Rizvi (Tata Mc Grew Hill)
- Communication – C.S. Rayudu, Himalaya Publishing House
- Business Communication – D.D. Chaturvedi, Mukesh Chaturvedi (Pearson Edu.)


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# Contents

1. Listening

1.1 Listening Comprehension

1.2. Effective Listening Strategies

1.3. Listening to Structured Talks

1.4. Intensive Listening

1.5.Team Listening (Listening & Note Taking)

2. Speaking

2.1. Oral Communication

2.2. Presentation Skills

2.3. Use of Visual Aids

2.4. Group Discussions

2.5. Facing Interviews

3. Reading

3.1 . Types of Reading

3. 2. Understanding the gist of an Argumen

3.3. Identifying the Topic Sentence

4. Writing

4.1. Paragraph Writing

4.2. Report Writing

4.3. Minutes Drafting

4.4. Information Transfer

4. 5. Interpreting data Editing a Passage

# YOGI VEMANA UNIVERSITY,KADAPA

DEPARTMENT OF ENGLISH

M.A ENGLISH LITERATURE AND LANGUAGE

SEMESTER - III

ENGYVU 306: TECHNICAL WRITING AND PRESENTATION SKILLS

OPEN ELECTIVE (B)

With Effect From 2021-22(Under NEP 2020)

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Program Educational Objectives (PEOs)

- To familiarize the students about essentials of writing
- To enrich their vocabulary
- To provide awareness of technical jargon and its use
- To provide orientation of aspects of effective oral communication
- To lend comprehensive idea oral presentations and inculcate confidence by providing opportunities of practice

UNIT: I A. Writing as A Productive Skill –Mechanics of Writing -7C's Of Writing- Vocabulary

B. Grammatical And Semantic Correctness- One Word Substitutes - Cliché And Redundant Expressions.

UNIT: II A. Technical Writing- Significant features – Technical words- Jargon

B. Report Writing – Technical Reports- Mini Project Proposals- Format

UNIT-III A. Public Speaking- Extempore – Dos and Do Not's

B. Structuring Thoughts- Kinesics – Proxemics.

UNIT –IV A. Oral Presentations – Orientation – Plan-Prepare- Practice -Present

B. Anchoring Formal Meetings- Group Discussion.

Program Specific Outcomes (PSOs)

- Knowledgeable about mechanics of writing
- Familiar with technical report writing and mini project proposals
- Aware of aspects related to effective oral communication
- Conversant with oral presentations

Suggested Reading:


- Technical Communication: Principles and Practice, Meenakshi Raman and Sangeeta Sharma, Oxford Publishers, 2015.
- Effective Technical Communication: M. Ashraf Rizvi , McGraw Hill Publications Bedford/St. Martin's; Tenth edition, 2012
- 3.Body language, Ian Berry , Create Space Independent Publishing Platform ,2016

- Effective Presentation Skills, A Practical Guide for Better Speaking, Steve Mandel , Crisp Publications ,2000.

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# Contents

1.1 Writing as A Productive Skill

1.2 Mechanics of Writing

1.3 7C's Of Writing

1.4 Vocabulary

1.5 Grammatical And Semantic Correctness

1.6 One Word Substitutes

1.7 Cliché And Redundant Expressions.

2.1 Technical Writing

2.2 Significant features

2.3 Technical words

2.4 Jargon

2.5 Report Writing

2.6 Technical Reports

2.7 Mini Project Proposals

2.8 Format

3.1 Oral Presentations

3.2 Orientation

3.3 Plan-Prepare

3.4 Practice -Present

4.1 Oral Presentations

4.2 Orientation

4.3 Plan-Prepare

4.4 Practice

4.5 Present

4.6 Anchoring Formal Meetings

4.7 Group Discussion

# YOGI VEMANA UNIVERSITY, KADAPA

DEPARTMENT OF ENGLISH

M.A ENGLISH LITERATURE AND LANGUAGE

SEMESTER -IV

ENGYVU401: INDIAN ENGLISH LITERATURE – II

With Effect From 2021-22(Under NEP 2020)

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Program Educational Objectives (PEOs)

- Gaining exposure about growth of Indian English Literature in the post independent era.
- Critiquing the prescribed works of poetry, fiction, drama and prose.
- Understand the thematic concerns, style and literary sensibility of the writers.

UNIT – I

Background Study : Literary History – Genres – Movements – Ideas – Trends Concepts.

UNIT – II

1. Nissim Ezekiel : 1. Background Casually, 2.Poet, Lover and Bird Watcher
2. A.K. Ramanujan : 1.A River, 2. Of Mothers among Other Things.

UNIT – III

3. Aravinda Adiga : The White Tiger
4. Chetan Bhagat : Five Point Someone

UNIT – IV

5. Anand Coomarswamy : Dance of Siva
6. Meenakshi Mukherjee : 1.Nation, Novel, Language ( From The Perishable Empire, Essays on Indian Writings in English)

Program Specific Outcomes (PSOs)

- Creates understanding on the origin and growth of Indian English literature.
- Develops literary sensibility by prescribing study works of literature authored by early Indian writers in English.
- Exposed to different genres of Indian English Literature.
- Fosters critical aptitude of interpreting and analyzing the prescribed text in Indian English Literature

Suggested Reading:


- Post Modern Indian English literature: Bijoy Kumar Das Atlantic Publisher, 2022.
- Contemporary Indian writing in English a Critical Survey 2012
- Realities in the Twentieth Century Indian Novel- Ulka Anjana's
- Indian English Literature Contemporary Perspectives Dr. Santosh Kumar and G. Chauhan Standard Publishers 2013.

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# Contents

1. Background Study

1.1 Literary History

1.2 Genres

1.3 Movements

1.4 Ideas

1.5 Trends

1.6 Concepts.

2.1 Nissim Ezekiel : 1. Background Casually, 2.Poet, Lover and Bird Watcher

2.2 A.K. Ramanujan : 1.A River, 2. Of Mothers among Other Things

3.1 Aravinda Adiga : The White Tiger

3.2 Chetan Bhagat : Five Point Someone

4.1 Anand Coomarswamy : Dance of Siva

4.2 Meenakshi Mukherjee : 1.Nation, Novel, Language ( From The Perishable Empire, Essays on Indian Writings in English)

# YOGI VEMANA UNIVERSITY,KADAPA

DEPARTMENT OF ENGLISH

M.A ENGLISH LITERATURE AND LANGUAGE

SEMESTER –IV

ENGYVU402: AMERICAN LITERATURE – II

With Effect From 2021-22(Under NEP 2020)

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## Program Educational Objectives (PEOs)

- To introduce the students to the important themes and to bring out Emerson's hidden struggle for self reliance through the prescribed text.
- To acquaint the student with the nature of Works in general and in particular.
- To discuss various topics relevant to a study of the American literature.

UNIT – I

| | | |
|---|---|---|
| Background Study | : | Literary History – Genres – Movements – Ideas – Trends - Concepts |

UNIT – II

| | | |
|---|---|---|
| 1. Robert Frost | : | 1. Birches,<br>2. Tree at my Window<br>3. Desert Places |
| 2. Wallace Stevens | : | 1.Sunday Morning,<br>2. Thirteen Ways of Looking Blackbird. |

UNIT – III

| | | |
|---|---|---|
| 3. Eugene O'Neill | : | Hairy Ape |
| 4. Tennessee Williams | : | The Glass Menagerie |

UNIT – IV

| | | |
|---|---|---|
| 5 Earnest Hemingway | : | The Old Man and the Sea |
| 6. Alice Walker | : | The Color Purple |

Program Specific Outcomes (PSOs)

- Provides an understanding of the origin and development of American literature.
- Studies selected writings of the most respective American poets, dramatists and novelists.
- Familiarizes with the literary history genres, movements, ideas, trends and concepts connected with the time.

Suggested Reading


- Fifty Years of American Drama - Alan Dower (Regonary, Chicago, 1951)
- The Literature of United States of America - Marshall Walker (Macmillan Education Ltd, 1988)
- The Machine in the Garden – Leo Marx (Oxford University Press, New York, 1967)
- American Literature of the Nineteenth Century: An Anthology – William J. Fisher (Eurasia publishing house Pvt. Ltd, New Delhi, 1970)
- American Literature: 1890-1965 – Egbert S. Oliver (Eurasia publishing house Pvt. Ltd, New Delhi, 1970)


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Contents

1. Background Study
   1.1 Literary History
   1.2 Genres
   1.3 Movements
   1.4 Ideas
   1.5 Trends
   1.6 Concepts

2.1 Robert Frost : 1. Birches,2. Tree at my Window3. Desert Places

2.2 Wallace Stevens : 1.Sunday Morning, 2. Thirteen Ways of Looking Blackbird

3.1 Eugene O'Neill : Hairy Ape

3.2 Tennessee Williams : The Glass Menagerie

4.1 Earnest Hemingway : The Old Man and the Sea

4.2 Alice Walker : The Color Purple

# YOGI VEMANA UNIVERSITY,KADAPA

DEPARTMENT OF ENGLISH

M.A ENGLISH LITERATURE AND LANGUAGE

SEMESTER –IV

ENGYVU403: LITERARY CRITICISM – II

With Effect From 2021-22(Under NEP 2020)

## Program Educational Objectives (PEOs)

- This course aims to develop student's ability to understand and to criticize a literary piece.
- To equip them knowledge of key forms and terminology of literary criticism, to ability to read the writings of literary scholars and critics with understanding and judicious appreciation.
- To acquire basic theoretical concepts underlying contemporary approaches to literature and the major differences between them.

UNIT – I

| | | |
|---|---|---|
| Background Study | : | Literary History – Genres – Movements – Ideas – Trends - Concepts |

UNIT – II

| | | |
|---|---|---|
| 1. Edmund Wilson | : | Marxism and Literature |
| 2. Lionel Trilling | : | Freud and Literature |

UNIT – III

| | | |
|---|---|---|
| 3. Northrope Frye | : | The Archetypes of Literature |
| 4. Jacques Derrida | : | Sign, Structure and Play |

UNIT – IV

| | | |
|---|---|---|
| 5. Elaine Showalter | : | Towards Feminist Poetics |
| 6.K.Bhabha | : | The Location of Culture |

Program Specific Outcomes (PSOs)

- Develops a critical attitude to the students to analyze drama, poetry.
- Traces the origin and development of Greek literary criticism and to analyze various critical works of the romantic, Victorian and modern period.

Suggested Reading


- English Literary Criticism and Theory – An Introductory History – M. S. Nagarajan (Orient Blackswan, 2008)

- New Literary Criticism- Gary Day
- A Handbook of Critical Approaches to Literature – Wilfred L. Guerin et al. (OUP, 2005)
- Structuralist Poetics : Structuralism, Linguistics and the Study of Literature – Jonathan Culler, Cornell University Press, 1975
- The Concept of Structuralism: A Critical Analysis – Philip Pettit, University of California Press, 1975
- "A Short Course in Post-Structuralism"- Jane Tomkins, College English, v. 50 n. 7 pp. 733- 47 Nov 1988

# Contents

1. Background Study

1.1 Literary History

1.2 Genres

1.3 Movements

1.4 Ideas

1.5Trends

1.6 Concepts

2.1 Edmund Wilson : Marxism and Literature

2.2 Lionel Trilling : Freud and Literature

3.1 Northrope Frye : The Archetypes of Literature

3.2 Jacques Derrida : Sign, Structure and Play

4.1 Elaine Showalter : Towards Feminist Poetics

4.2 K.Bhabha : The Location of Culture

## Program Educational Objectives (PEOs)

- To introduce the students the important themes in New Literature through the prescribed study.
- To acquaint the student with the nature of Commonwealth writer's Works in general and African, Canada and Caribbean in particular.
- To discuss various topics relevant to a study of New Literature in English

UNIT – I

Background Study : Literary History – Genres – Movements – Ideas – Trends - Concepts

UNIT – II

1. Derek Walcott : 1. Far Cry from Africa, 2. A City's Death By Fire
2. Katherine Mansfield : The Doll's House

UNIT – III

3. Margaret Laurence : The Stone Angel
4. Margaret Atwood : Surfacing

UNIT – IV

5. T.M . Aluko : Chief, The Honorable Minister,
6. Buchi Emecheta : The Bride Price

Program Specific Outcomes (PSOs)

- Studies development of New literature in commonwealth countries and in nations other then Britain. Australia, Canadian, African literature.
- It is always with important movements, concepts, trends of the natives of different regions other than Britain

Suggested Reading

- A Manifold Voice - Studies in Commonwealth Literature – William Walsh (London, 1970)
- Literature of the World in English - Bruce King
- Awakened Conscience - C. D. Narasimhaiah (1978)

- African Literature: A Critical View - David Cook (Longman, London, 1977)
- The Literature of Australia - Geoffrey Dutton
- Survival: A Thematic Guide to Australian Literature - Margaret Atwood
- Homecoming: Essays on African and Caribbean Literature, Culture and Politics - Ngugi Wa Thiongo (Heinemann, London, 1972)


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# Contents

1. Background Study
   - 1.1 Literary History
   - 1.2 Genres
   - 1.3 Movements
   - 1.4 Ideas
   - 1.5 Trends
   - 1.6 Concepts

2.1 Derek Walcott : 1. Far Cry from Africa, 2. A City's Death By Fire

2.2 Katherine Mansfield : The Doll's House

3.1 Margaret Laurence : The Stone Angel

3.2 Margaret Atwood : Surfacing

4.1 T.M . Aluko : Chief, The Honorable Minister,

4.2 Buchi Emecheta : The Bride Price

# YOGI VEMANA UNIVERSITY,KADAPA

DEPARTMENT OF ENGLISH

M.A ENGLISH LITERATURE AND LANGUAGE

SEMESTER –IV

ENGYVU404: PERSONALITY DEVELOPMENT

INTERNAL ELECTIVE I (B)

With Effect From 2021-22(Under NEP 2020)

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## Program Educational Objectives (PEOs)

- It's the image of a person in others mind and emotions for that person in others heart.
- It makes a person unique.
- There are many components of personality

UNIT I Introduction to Personality Development:

1. The concept personality- Dimensions of theories of Freud & Erickson-personality – significant of personality development. The concept of success and failure: What is success?
2. Hurdles in achieving success - Overcoming hurdles - Factors responsible for success – What is failure - Causes of failure. SWOT analyses.

UNIT II Attitude & Motivation:

1. Attitude - Concept - Significance - Factors affecting attitudes - Positive attitude - Advantages –Negative attitude - Disadvantages - Ways to develop positive attitude
2. Difference between personalities having positive and negative attitude. Concept of motivation - Significance - Internal and external motives - Importance of self-motivation- Factors leading to de-motivation

UNIT III Self-Esteem:

1. Term self-esteem - Symptoms - Advantages - Do's and Don’ts to develop positive self-esteem – Low self esteem - Symptoms
2. Personality having low self esteem - Positive and negative self-esteem. Interpersonal Relationships – Defining the difference between aggressive, submissive and assertive behaviours - Lateral thinking.

UNIT IV Other Aspects of Personality Development:

1. Body language - Problem-solving - Conflict and Stress Management - Decision-making skills

2. Leadership and qualities of a successful leader - Character-building - Team-work - Time management -Work ethics – Good manners and etiquette.

Program Specific Outcomes (PSOs)

- Accepts that everyone is unique, don't have arrogance...
- Always remembers that everyone is unique and special in its own self.

Suggested Reading


- Andrews, Sudhir. How to Succeed at Interviews. 21st (rep.) New Delhi:Tata
- McGraw-Hill 1988. Heller, Robert. Effective leadership. Essential Manager series. Dk, Publishing, 2002
- Hindle, Tim. Reducing Stress. Essential Manager series. Dk Publishing,2003
- Lucas, Stephen. Art of Public Speaking. New Delhi. Tata - Mc-Graw Hill. 2001

Mile, D.J Power of positive thinking. Delhi. Rohan Book Company, (2004).


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# Contents


1. Introduction to Personality Development

1.1 The concept personality

1.2 Dimensions of theories of Freud & Erickson

1.3 personality

1.4 significant of personality development. The concept of success and failure: What is success?

1.5 Hurdles in achieving success

1.6 Overcoming hurdles

1.7 Factors responsible for success

1.8 What is failure - Causes of failure. SWOT analyses.

2. Attitude & Motivation

2.1 Attitude

2.2 Concept

2.3 Significance

2.4 Factors affecting attitudes

2.5 Positive attitude

2.6 Advantages

2.7 Negative attitude

2.8 Disadvantages - Ways to develop positive attitude

2.9 Difference between personalities having positive and negative attitude. Concept of motivation

2.10 Significance - Internal and external motives - Importance of self-motivation- Factors leading to de-motivation

3. Self-Esteem

3.1 Term self-esteem

3.2 Symptoms - Advantages

3.3 Do's and Don'ts to develop positive self-esteem – Low self esteem - Symptoms

3.4 Personality having low self esteem

3.5 Positive and negative self-esteem.

3.6 Interpersonal Relationships

3.7 Defining the difference between aggressive, submissive and assertive behaviours - Lateral thinking.

4. Other Aspects of Personality Development

4.1 Body language - Problem-solving

4.2 Conflict and Stress Management - Decision-making skills

4.3 Leadership and qualities of a successful leader

4.4 Character-building

4.5 Team-work - Time management Work ethics – Good manners and etiquette

# YOGI VEMANA UNIVERSITY,KADAPA

DEPARTMENT OF ENGLISH

M.A ENGLISH LITERATURE AND LANGUAGE

SEMESTER -IV

ENGYVU405: (A) SUBALTERN LITERATURE

INTERNAL ELECTIVE – II

With Effect From 2021-22(Under NEP 2020)

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## Program Educational Objectives (PEOs)

- To explore the concepts of history, culture, nationalism, migration, gender and race in the context of post- colonial theories and literatures.
- To study the notions of India and Indian Literature.
- Making hear the voices from the margins and from the subaltern groups.
- To deconstruct the traditional historiography which has erased histories of subordinated groups in a sustained manner.
- To know the nature, meaning and definition of Tribal Literature.

UNIT – I

Background Study : Cultural Reflections, Social Realism in the Regional Literatures, Feminist Concerns, Marginal Literatures.

UNIT – II

1. Vemana : A True and Rare Genius (Select Poems)
2. Sikhamani : He Is The Filthy Human Being
3. Vimala : Kitchen

UNIT – III

4. Rashid Jahan : Aurat ( Woman )
5. Neena Mehta : Brides are not for Burning

UNIT – IV

6. Shiva Shankar Pillai : Chemmeen
7. Mahaswetha Devi : Water (Short Story)

Program Specific Outcomes (PSOs)

- Studies Indian cultural reflections
- Studies social realism, in Indian subaltern literature.

Suggested Reading


- Bassnett, Susan. Comparative Literature: A Critical Introduction. Oxford: Blackwell, 1993. Bose, Buddhadeva.
- "Comparative Literature in India," JJCL (1969): 1-10. Damrosch David, Natalie Melas, Mbongiseni Buthelezi.
- The Princeton Sourcebook in Comparative Literature. Princeton: Princeton UP, 2009. Das, Sisir Kumar.
- "Comparative Literature in India: A Historical Perspective." Zepetnek , Steven Tötösy de. Comparative Literature: theory, method, application. Amsterdam: Rodopi, 1998. Weisstein, Ulrich. Comparative Literature and Literary Theory: Survey and Introduction. Tr. William Riggan. Bloomington: Indiana UP, 1973


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# Content

1. Background Study

1.1 Cultural Reflections, Social Realism in the Regional Literatures, Feminist Concerns, Marginal Literatures

2.1 Vemana : A True and Rare Genius (Select Poems)

2.2 Sikhamani : He Is The Filthy Human Being

2.3 Vimala : Kitchen

3.1 Rashid Jahan : Aurat ( Woman)

3.2 . Neena Mehta : Brides are not for Burning

4.1 Shiva Shankar Pillai : Chemmeen

4.2 Mahaswetha Devi : Water (Short Story)

# YOGI VEMANA UNIVERSITY,KADAPA

DEPARTMENT OF ENGLISH

M.A ENGLISH LITERATURE AND LANGUAGE

SEMESTER -IV

ENGYVU 405: INDIAN DIASPORIC WRITING

INTERNAL ELECTIVE – II(B)

With Effect From 2021-22(Under NEP 2020)

## Program Educational Objectives (PEOs)

- To examine the various aspects of Diaspora.
- To trace the comprehensive history of Diaspora Studies.
- To study the Diaspora elements among Indian and Indian Origin Women Writers.
- To study the themes, characterization, style and strategies employed in fictional works.
- To compare and contrast the diasporic themes, characterization, plot, style and strategies and overall diasporic features in the works.

UNIT-I

| | | |
|---|---|---|
| Background Study | : | Genesis – Definitions of Diaspora – Key concepts and Literary terms – Bi- Cultural and Multi-Cultural aspects Influencing Diaspora – themes and Motifs of Diasporic Literature |

UNIT – II

| | | |
|---|---|---|
| 1. Salman Rushdie | : | Imaginary Homelands |
| 2. Edward Said | : | Introduction and The Scope of Orientalism . (From Orientalism) |

UNIT – III

| | | |
|---|---|---|
| 3. Bharati Mukherjee | : | Jasmine ( Short Story) from The Middleman and other Stories. |
| 4. Jhumpha Lahiri | : | A Temporary Matter (from The Interpreter of Maladies) |

UNIT – IV

| | | |
|---|---|---|
| 5. V. S. Naipaul | : | A House for Mr. Biswas |
| 6. Rohinton Mistry | : | Such a Long Journey |

## Program Specific Outcomes (PSOs)

- Studies Indian Diasporic writing as a subject
- Studies and analyze theories connected with writings and selected works.

Suggested Reading:

- Stephen Castles and Mark J. Miller. 1998. The Age of Migration: International Populations Movements in the Modern World. London: Macmillan. [Introduction]

- Richards, Eric. 2007. “The British Diaspora in Wide-angle”. In: Ajaya Kumar Sahoo and Brij Maharaj (eds.), Sociology of Diaspora: A Reader, pp. 363-377. New Delhi: Rawat Publications. Cohen, Robin 1997. Global Diaspora: An Introduction. London: UCL Press. [Introduction ]
- Eleonore Kofman, Annie Phizacklea, Parvati Raghuram, Rosemary Sales. 2000. Gender and International Migration in Europe: Employment, Welfare and Politics. London: Routledge. [Introduction]
- Vertovec, Steven and Robin Cohen (eds.). 1999. Migration, Diaspora and Trans-nationalism. London: Edward Elgar. [Introduction] gender and race in the

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## Contents


1. Background Study

1.1 Genesis

1.2 Definitions of Diaspora

1.3 Key concepts and Literary terms

1.4 Bi- Cultural and Multi-Cultural aspects Influencing Diaspora – themes and Motifs of Diasporic Literature

2.1 Salman Rushdie : Imaginary Homeland

2.2 Edward Said : Introduction and The Scope of Orientalism . (From Orientalism)

3.1 Bharati Mukherjee : Jasmine ( Short Story) from The Middleman and other Stories

3.2 Jhumpha Lahiri : A Temporary Matter from The Interpreter of Maladies)

4.1 V. S. Naipaul : A House for Mr. Biswas

4.2 Rohinton Mistry : Such a Long Journey

# YOGI VEMANA UNIVERSITY,Kadapa

**DEPARTMENT OF ENGLISH**

**M.A ENGLISH LITERATUREAND LANGUAGE**

## SEMESTER - I

**ENGYVU101: POETRY – I**

**With Effect From 2021-22 (Under NEP 2020 )**

## Educational Objectives (PEOs)

- To introduce the students to the important themes in poetry fourteenth century to eighteenth century through the prescribed study.
- To acquaint the student with the nature of Works in general and in particular.
- To discuss various topics relevant to a study of the poetry.

**UNIT – I**

**Background Study : Literary Terms: Ode, Epic, Mock Epic Augustan Satire, Elegy, Lyric – Genres – Movements – Ideas – Trends – Concepts.**

**UNIT – II**

**1. Geoffrey Chaucer: The Prologue to the Canterbury Tales**
**(The Knight, the wife of bath, The Partner)**

**2. John Donne : A *Valediction: Forbidding Mourning*, Canonization.**

**UNIT – III**

**3. Milton: Paradise Lost, Book IX**

**4. Alexander Pope : The Rape of the Lock.**

**UNIT – IV**

**5. William Wordsworth : Lines Written a Few Miles aboveTintern Abbey.**

**6. Coleridge : The Rime of Ancient Mariner.**

**7. John Keats : Ode to a Nightingale, Ode to Autumn.**

**8. P B Shelly : Ode to the West Wind, The Cloud.**

## ProgramSpecificOutcomes(PSOs)

- Creates awareness of the literary movements and concepts.
- Familiarises Prosodic features.
- Analyses critically the British poetry from fourteenth century to eighteen century.

## Suggested Reading


- John Donne: A Life (Clarendon Press, Oxford, rpe1 986)
- Poetry and Prose (1540-1674). Ed Christopher Rick (Penguin Books, )
- Songs and Sonnets: A Collection of Critical Essays, ed. Julian Macmillan,


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# Poetry-1

**Unit-1**

### 1. Introduction to the Age of Chaucer

The Age of Chaucer covers the period from 1340 to 1400. It was a period of transition and turbulence. This age was a meeting ground of two divergent periods—the old and the new, the Medieval and the Renaissance. Though the spirit of the middle ages had not yet passed -away, the seeds of modernity were being sown. This period witnessed remarkable social, religious and political changes.

It was in this period that the crucial Hundred Years War between England and France took place. This war awakened English nationalism and gave rise to a national consciousness.

The victories of Edward and the Black Prince on French soil during the Hundred Years War gave a feeling of national pride and self-respect to the people of England. This period marked the beginning of a new language and literature. English came to its own because of the great works done by Chaucer, Langland and Wycliffe, who wrote in English. The various dialects of Middle English spoken in the 14th century were similar to Modern English. In 1362, a statute ordained that English would be the language of law courts. There was also growth of trade and commerce.

Feudalism was beginning to break down and features of money economy came into being. There was rise of the 'burgesses' who organised themselves into craft guilds. The church's authority began to be questioned with reformers like Wycliffe. Wycliffe voiced the discontent of common people and tried to awaken the conscience of society. The 14th century was marked by widespread protests and rebellions against Feudal institutions and royal authority. The way was prepared by the wars of kings, which depleted the royal treasury and led to unjust taxation on common people. People already suffering from the effects of the war, were struck by the dreadful pestilence called the Black Death. The Black Death erased more than a quarter of Britain's population and affected the working force. The workers, who survived this epidemic started demanding more wages. This resentment led to The Peasants Revolt of 1381.

In general. the Age of Chaucer witnessed a series of uprisings and agitations. which led to a churning of the society and paved the way for a new SOCISTN

Edward Albert sums up the main characteristics of Chaucerian age as follows

"A curious modern note begins to be apparent at this period. There 18 2 sharper spirit of criticism. a more searching interest in man's affairs and a less child like whin and a less complacent acceptance. ot the order. The vogue of the romance. though it has by no means gone. and in Chaucer it is derided. The treshness of the romantic ideal ix superseded by the more acute spirit of drama, which even at this carly ost ablished is passing being ama is faintly foreshadowed ver is that the texts still lack

Another more modern feature that at once strikes the obse age of anonymity is passing away. Though many ot the named authors, the greater number of books can be detinitely ascribed. Moreover. we have for the first time a figure of outstanding literary importance, who gives to the age the form and pressure of his genius."

Social and Cultural Background of the Age

14th century society was still very much divided into the three traditional estates. those who pray (the Church). those who fight (the nobility) and those who work (evervone else). The church was the most powertul institution and owned a third of the property. Taken together. the Crown, the nobility and the church owned about 75% of English land.

The largest class of the population was Villani. About tour in ten people were Villiani tied to the land. They did not own the land, but farmed their own holdings (about 4596 of all English land). which they were allowed to occupy in exchange for labour services.

The three estates lasted until the middle of the 14th cent , classes based solely on professions began to rise. The mer BE a introduced, which consisted of merchants and was co reantile class wag middle-class. The rise of this middle class, in turn led t sidered an urban of French cultural hegemony.

The ly Joticultural. English agricultyry, ov is and productivity remained Stagnan isicnd | the medieval period. Chaucer's 4 throughot! d of continuous Economic uphesyy was a agli Black Plague, population had) Due to a the economy had declined, The redubet, ears War also contributed 4 eh the national feasts cee had an adverse impact on the economy © _ ime, During the 14th century, towns ocean to function as commercial iliac ok long distance trade was still undeVEIop os . There wag rise of the merchant class and formation of trade guilds. Craftsmen, artisans and merchants formed organisations that regulated most aspects of its members businesses. Guilds dictated the requirements for membership and controlled the training of apprentices as well as the quality and price of services Of merchandise offered by its members. Non-members were {forbidden to practice their crafts and preferential treatment was often afforded to guild members. By the end of the middle ages, guilds became extremely powerful, influencing the economic and political life of towns throughout England. Wool industry became an important sector. The woolen industry moved into rural areas, where raw material for processing was available. Instead of exporting wool to Flanders, the English began to make cloth thernselves on a large scale. The town of bath was important in this respect, since it had a developing wool industry.

This shift to rural areas is reflected in Chaucer's portrait of the wife of bath in Canterbury Tales. The wife of bath comes from a place beside bath. She is a weaver of clothes so fine that she surpasses those of Ypres and Gaunt. Chaucer also emphasises the wife's desire for economic security. She marriages rich husband and is well aware that the only power women can obtain is through their body, that can be bought and sold like a commodity. During Chaucer's age. peasants began to realise their worth and Stared demanding better wages and reforms. e Peasants Revolt is a manifestation of that.

Money began to replace labour services. Religious Background of the Age The office of the pope was st extremely powerful and the church was a major social and cultural force of the period. Papacy had the power to appoint bishops. people had to resort to the services of the priests to communicate with God. Priests had to be paid to say masses or release souls from purgatory. The king, too employed clerical ministers and paid them by church preferments. However, The Black Death disorganised the church by thinning the ranks of the clergy. Incumbents deserted their parishes to take stipendiary work in towns or secular employments and unbeneficed clergy demanded higher stipend. Sale of indulgences began to be misused and became a mass market. In Chaucer's Age, the position of church began to be gradually undermined and people for the first time began to show signs of discontent against the churchmen. The laity questioned the special privileges and the vast amount of wealth available to the clergy. The institutional church, led by the pope, his cardinals and the bishops, became less a source of new ideas and spiritual leadership and increasingly an embattled establishment trying to maintain the Position it had gained in earlier eras.

Heresy or religious revolt appeared in England. Unlike earlier heresies, this time it was led by a prominent member of the establishment: John Wycliffe, an Oxford scholar, a theologian of the first rank.

Wycliffe became a big threat to the _ Church in the last decades of the century. Lollardy, a movement NStigated by John Wycliffe, began to Question the church's claim to be the Sole authority on matters of religion. Lollardy posed a serious problem for the church because a number of Nobles took Wycliffe's ideas from the confines of Oxford University out NS the Political world. ¢ "my “0 Literary Trends of the Age Alliterative Revival 14th

century witnessed a revival of alliterative poetry, which culminated in the major masterpieces of Sir Gawain and the Green Knight, Pearl and Piers Plowman. These works breathed new life into the traditional, native English form inherited from the Anglo-Saxons (for whom however it was a strictlyoral tradition). Old English Alliterative verse would not have been created or performed at court in England after the Norman conquest, since, the language of the court was French and since Anglo-Norman poetry was typically written in rhyming couplets, after the French fashion. But by the late 14th century, the language of court had shifted from Anglo-Norman French to Middle English, although courtiers would typically still know French and French language poetry was still written by and for court audiences.
Besides the Gawain-poet's works, the Alliterative R such works as William Langland's Piers Plowman, John Clerk of Whaley's Destruction of Troy, the anonymous political satire Winner and Waster, the Parliament of the Three Ages and the Alliterative Morte Arthure (like Sir Gawain and the Green Knight, an Arthurian Tale). The poems of the Alliterative Revival were all written by well educated and possibly clerical poets, share themes of high moral seriousness and use Northern and Western English dialects.
living far from Chaucer's use of native atriotism and
All were the work of provincial poets, cosmopolitan London. The Alliterative Revival's English poetic forms suggests an appeal to English personal identity, as well as an attempt to distinguish English poetry from its more influential French competitors.

Rich description of natural settings and the use of vivid, realistic detail are two other distinguishing features of the Alliterative Revival, and Sir Gawain and the Green Knight is a prime example of both. All of the Gawain-poet's works are notable for their extreme attention to detail, whether of settings or of activities. In general, the Gawain-poet's works are more elegant and polished than the rest of the Alliterative Revival, indicating that they were intended for a cultured and refined audience.
Romances in the Age of Chaucer

**The Tale of Gamelyn (1350)**

The Tale of Gamelyn is an English metrical romance of some 900 lines. written in the East Midland dialect of Middle English, in rhymed couplets. It is the story of a younger son, left at his father's death in the care of a wicked elder brother, who secks to cheat him out of his inheritance. The tale opens with the old knight Sir Johan of Boundys on his death bed. He knows his end is near and he has called his neighbours so that in their presence, he may divide his lands among his three sons. He knows that his neighbours will trv to cheat the voung Gamelyn of his share, but "the old man is determined to have his own way.

The poem was added to a version of The Canterbury Tales. er included the unfinished Coolk's Tale. It is likely that Chaucer himsel rewrite it for Gamelyn among his papers, his intention may have been that Chaucer one of his own characters, in any case it is generally agree had no hand in the tale. William and the Werewolf

Translated into Middle English by a poet we sometime between 1350 and 1360, this is a retellin Roman de Guillaume de Palerne. know only as ‘william g of the much older The romance was translated into Middle English in the mid 14th century at the instigation of one Humphrey de Bohun, 6th Earl of Hereford and nephew to Ing Edward 11 of England. This is the first work of fiction to feature a benevolent werewolf. Sir Gawain and the Green Knight (1350-1400) The alliterative poem Sir Gawain and the Green Knight, likely written in the mid 14th century, survives in a late 14th century manuscript = tI ‘hree other poems Pearl, Purity and Patience by the same author. Gawain is typical of Middle English alliterative poems in that it is written in alliterative long lines; following the basic metrical principles of Old English verse. A larger story that frames the narrative is that of Morgan le Fave’ traditional hatred for Arthur and his court, called Camel ie hele Arthur's half sister and a powerful sorceress, usually ap ) = ih Morgan, an enemy of the Round Table. Indeed, medieval readers ney in le role in the destined fall of Camelot, the perfect ye 1 Sp Morgans Gawain and the Green Knight.

Geoffrey Chaucer (1343-1400) Ge sw Ch: Eh oa BNC ms ali worked Bens » (so called because wine merchants Jived and orked here) in London's walled city. Tis father was a prosperous wine merchant, who might have supplied the cellars of the Jing (Edward III) and therefore was able to bring his son to royal notice. At a young age, Chaucer served as a page to Elizabeth, Countess of Ulster and wife of Lionel, Edward TPs third son, "This was a conventional arrangement, in which sons of middle-class houscholds were placed in royal service, so that they could obtain a courtly education. Chaucer primarily obtained his education at the Court and learnt French and Latin there.

In 1359, at the age of 19, he accompanied Lionel, the Duke of Clarence on a military campaign to France, where he was taken prisoner. Chaucer's value in the royal family can be ascertained from the fact that the English King Edward 1 (1312-1377) paid a ransom for his release. After his release, Chaucer was transferred to the king's own service and promoted to the rank of esquire. Edward III later sent him on diplomatic missions to France, Genoa and Florence. His travels exposed him to the work of authors such as Dante, Boccaccio and Froissart.

Around 1366, Chaucer married Philippa de Roet, daughter of the Flemish Sir Gilles de Roet. Philippa received an annuity from the queen consort of Edward III. Her sister, Katharine was for many years the mistress and later the third wife of John of Gaunt, another of the sons of Edward 111 and a powerful patron. Through this connection, Chaucer became John of Gaunt's kinsman. He enjoyed Gaunt's patronage throughout his life. He was granted a royal annuity for life of 20 pounds.

In 1369. Chaucer was asked by John of Gaunt to compose a memorial poem, written in English, to be recited at the Mass for his deceased wife Blanche, Duchess of Lancaster. The result was Chaucer's first work, the Book of the Duchess. During the 1370s, Chaucer went on several journcys abroad on diplomatic and commercial missions. He visited France and Northern Italy as a member of the embassy to Bernabo Visconti, the ruler of Milan.

Chaucer's first pened was of Fronon influence Cincludes his carly work, wich is based largely on Front models, capecislly the Roman de ls Rose and ine poor of Guillaurne da lAzchaut Chaucer's chil pres <urry this time wore the Book of the Duckicn:, ao sles clegy

written in 1269 on the death of Blanche, vnfe of John of Gaunt and a partial translation of the Forman de la Rosa

**Second Period (Italian Period)**

This was Chaucer's period of Italian influence Dunng this time, his works vere modeled prmanty of Came and Boccaccio. Major works of the second penod include. Tho Houso of Farne, 16Counting tne go eniures of Aencas after the Fall of Troy, The Parliament of fowls, which talks about the mating of fowls on St Valentine's

Day and a prose translation of Boethius' De consolation philosophiac

Third Period (English Period) Chaucor's third penod was a pened of m and onginality, in which he pursued the b genius. Dunng this period, he wrote The Legend of Good Women, a series of biographies of famous women freer myth and history. Chaucer's masterpiece, the 17000 ne

. Canterbury Tales (written mostly after 1387) also belongs m to this penod ature strength ent of his own.

**The Book of the Duchess (1368-69)**

The Book of the Duchess is the first of Chaucer's major poems.

This is an elegy written on the death of Blanche, Duchess of Lancaster. It is written in the form of a dream allegory. It carries influences from Guillaume Lorris's Roman de la Rose. The poem begins with a sleepless poet, who lies in bed reading a book. He reads a story about Ceyx and Alcione and wanders around in his thoughts. Suddenly, the poet falls asleep and dreams a wonderful story.

In his dream, he sees a 'man in blak', a knight, who tells him about his courtship of a beautiful lady and his mourning for her death. When the poet awakes, he decides that this dream should be preserved in rhyme. The poem serves twin purposes of elegy and eulogy. It is composed of more than 1300 lines in octosyllables.

**The House of Fame (1379-80)**

It is an autobiographical poem composed in three books. It is written in form of a dream allegory. Book | begins with the narrator falling asleep and dreaming about a temple dedicated to the Goddess Venus. Inside the temple, he finds inscriptions that depict the story of Virgil's Aeneid. Rest of the book portrays Dido's betrayal by Aeneas. In Book Il, the narrator is carried by an eagle, which speaks to him in a human voice and assures him that Jove has decided to reward him by sending him to the House of Fame.

In Book lll, he reaches the House of Fame and meets the Goddess Fame. The allegorical description of this house and its inhabitants is left unfinished.

The poem carries influences of Boccaccio, Ovid, Virgil's Aeneid and Dante's Divine Comedy. Main themes of the poem are process of poetic creation and operations of the capricious

The Parliament of Fowls (1380s) The Parliamenm

written in the form of a form. It reli a vision of birds gathered to choose their mates on

It presents 's Day. The poem begins with the narrator St Valentinere by the appearance of a temple where 2 r conduct debate remai that the courtship associat of Fowls is a poem written to celebrate the arriage of King Richard II to Anne of Bohemia in 1382. It's upon

the beast fable tradition. dream vision in rhyme royal stanza ading Cicero's Dream of Scipio and his reading is awarded nobler the ted with it.

Chaucer does not condemn Criseyde's character. He i sympathetic to the cause of women, understands the plight of women in a male dominated society and gives us reasons behind Criseyde's decision to desert Troilus. Criseyde's character is complex. She is both beautiful and mysterious She is also a practical woman, who thinks before she acs Troilus is a brave warrior. He is emotional and reticent. He displays the qualities of an ideal courtly lover.
The Legend of Good Women (1380s)

It is written in the form of a dream vision. It contains? Prologue and nine stories. The Prologue to the book cite reasons behind Chaucer's collection of stories about good women. Cupid, The God of Love accuses Chaucer of defaming women by writing works, which are critical of romantic love and women, Cupid is acc ) hs - accompanied by a mysterious Queen, who # rovealec to be Alcestis, Queen of Thrace, This Queen offer' mendations . J ; has ria to Chaucer to make amends for what
as en so far. As a pen: . : y ar. As a penance, he is asked to write 2b" about wome 3
Crineyae em who have proved loving and faithful, unlike

**The Canterbury Tales (1386-95**)

Chaucer's most acclaimed work; The Canterbury Tales is a collection of stories narrated by twenty-nine pilgrims on their way to the shrine of martyr Saint Thomas Becket in Canterbury. All the pilgrims gather at Tabard Inn, southwark in preparation for their pilgrimage. Harry Bailly, The Host of the Inn suggests a story telling contest, according to which the pilgrim with the best story would be awarded an elegant dinner at the end of the trip. The Host himself becomes the judge of the contest.

The Age of Chaucer (1340-1400) S33

"hi S 1d narrate Chaucer originally planned that cach charge shops os Eon tales. But out of the original 120, only 24 tes 8 oo The book also contains a General Prologus, wittteh provicestht characterisation of the pilgrims. ble Fate nets (the only sections of society from gentry to humble eral > lerimage absentees are the labouring poor, unable to a for a pi grimage of this kind). There are respectable people from but the classes such as the knight, the parson and the SE ret tious emphasis falls mainly on characters, who are lreten d scurrilous, mendacious, avaricious or lecherous. Portrait of the Pilgrims in the Canterbury Tales

**The Knight**

The highest in social hierarchy and therefore the first story-teller. Brave, worthy and honourable, the knight has fought crusades for the sake of Christianity. The Knight represents the values of chivalry, truth, honour and justice. A knyght ther was and that a worthy man, That fro the tyme that he first bigan To riden out, he loved chivalrie, Trouthe and honour, freedom and curteisie.
Ful worthy was he in his lordes werre,

And therto hadde he riden, no man ferre,

As wel in Cristendom as in hethenesse,

And evere honoured for his worthynesse.

At Alisaundre he was whan it was wonne.

Ful ofte tyme he hadde the bord bigonne

Aboven alle nacions in Pruce; In Lettow hadde he reysed and in Ruce, No Cristen man so ofte of his degree. In Grenade at the seege eek hadde he be
Of Algezir and riden in Belmarye.

At Lyeys was he and at Satalye When they were wonne and in the Grete See
At many a noble armee hadde he be.

**The Squire**

The Knight's son, he is youthful, handsome and curly-haired. In contrast to the Knight, he is a vain, lusty young man. He enjoys singing, writing poetry and horse-riding and considers himself a lady's man.
A lovyere and a lusty bacheler,

'With lokkes crulleas they were leyd in presse.

Of twenty year of age he was, I gesse.

Of his stature he was of evene lengthe,

And wonderly delyvere, and of greet strengthe.

And he hadde been somtyme in chyvachie

In Flaundres, in Artoys, and Pycardie,

And born hym weel, as of so litel space, In hope to stonden in his lady grace.
Embrouded was he, as it were a meede

Al ful of fresshe floures, whyte and reede.

Syngynge he was, or floytynge, al the day;

He was as fressh as is the month of May.

Short was his gowne, with sleves longe and wyde.

'Wel koude he sitte on hors and faire ryde.

He koude songes make and wel endite,

Juste and eek daunce, and weel purtreye and write.

So hoote he lovede that by nyghtertale. pa is ER She is a professional weaver. She is pe : omewhat deaf and wears bright scarlet red ckings. She has beén married five times and had

man other affairs in her youth, making her an expert in the art of love. She enjoys talking and wearing omate clothes. She likes to live life on her own terms. _
She makes a great show of being religious, takes part in charities, but in reality is concerned more with the appearance of it. Reportedly good-humoured and full of life, the Wife of Bath is going to Canterbury to find her sixth husband.
A good wif was ther of biside Bathe,

But she was somdel deef and that was scathe.

Of clooth-makyng she hadde swich an haunt,

She passed hem of Ypres and of Gaunt.

In al the parisshe wif ne was ther noon

That to the offrynge bifore hire sholde goon;

And if ther dide, certeyn so wrooth was she, That she was out of alle charitee.
Hir coverchiefs ful fyne weren of ground;

I dorste swere they weyeden ten pound

That on a Sonday weren upon hir heed.

The Pardoner

He sells pardons and indulgences-repriev es from penance in exchange for charitable donations to the church. He has yellow hair, bulging eye balls, a goat-like voice and wears a small hat.
He fools people to make m oney and carries a bag full of fake relics. He is greedy and a hypocrite. He has an ambiguous sexuality. He is good at singing and preaching. With hym ther rood a gentil pardoner Of Rouncivale, his freend and his compeer,
That streight was comen fro the court of Rome.

Ful loude he soong, “Com hider, love, to me!”

This somonour bar to hym a stif burdoun;

Was nevere trompe of half so greet a soun.

This pardoner hadde heer as yelow as wex,

But smothe it heeng as dooth a strike of flex;

By ounces henge his lokkes that he hadde,

And therwith he his shuldres overspradde;

But thynne it lay, by colpons oon and oon.

But hood, for jolitee, wered he noon,

For it was trussed up in his walet.

te sces his chance

Tl sh, Pal: nu fights valiantly, Arcite ; i

wupgh, Palaimon fig and claims him with a and brings Palamon to the stake an Theseus proclaims sword at his throat. Emily Arcite victorious. The Host oon Namo Is Harry Bailoy. Tho ownor of tho Tabard Inn, ho
mor sels to travol with tho pilgrim, Ho is largo, loud, tactlul,

& Ye sensiblo and gonial. Ho is tho judgo of tho story-tolling

**The Narrator**

He is both a pilgrim and a rocorder of all ovonts. Ho prosonts himsolf as a grogarious and nativo charactor, Tho roadors should be caroful about associating his thoughts and rofloctions with
Chaucer's,

The Tales

The Knight’s Tale : A Romance

The Knight begins his tale with the story of Thescus, a

prince, who married Hippolyta, the Queen of Scythia and brought her sister, Emily, back to Athens with him after conquering her kingdom of Amazons. Outside Athens, he meets a band of weeping women and learns that the tyrant Creon has murdered their husbands and dishonours the dead by leaving them unburied. Incensed, Theseus quickly overthrows Crecon and restores the Theban dead to the women for ceremonial burying. After the destruction of
Creon’s forces, booty hunters find two young knights (Palamon and Arcite), who are not quite dead. Theseus decides against executing the knights and instead imprisons them with no hope of ransom.
The prisoners are cousins and sworn brothers, Both live in the prison tower for several years until they see Emily in a nearby garden. Both fall immediately in love with her. Palamon compares her to Venus and prays for an escape from the prison. Similarly, Arcite claims that he would rather be dead than not have Emelye. The two fight over her, each calling the other a traitor.
Eventually, Theseus proposes a formal tournament in one year with each knight supported by one hundred knights. The winner of the just would get the hand of Emily. On the evening before the battle, Palamon, Emily and Arcite pray. Palamon prays to Venus, goddess of love; Emily prays to Diana, Goddess of chastity and Arcite prays to Mars, God of war.
All receive a vision indicating that their prayers will be answered. The three prayers and resulting promises cause confusion in heaven until Saturn, god of destiny, promises that Palamon will win his love and Arcite will win the battle. The day of the battle, Theseus sternly delivers the rules and the bloody battle of flashing swords and maces begins.
H “sre ed crushing his chest. Gravely wounded, toward ‘Theseus. The knight's horse throws him, ’ the company rides to bed, where physicians attempt in vain' to heal him.

Arcite expresses his love to Emily and then tells her that, if she decides to marry another, she should sses the qualities of a worthy transports Arcite remember Palamon, who posse

Mover' speech, then orders Emily to marry Palamon after a funeral ceremony honouring Arcite and the Knight's story finishes on a happy note.
The Knight's Tale perfectly fits the Knight himself: i.e.g., he chooses a story filled with knights, love, honour, chivalry and adventure. It adheres to traditional values of chivalric, Inightly honour, in which there are strict codes of behaviour, which one must follow. The tale is a Chivalric romance, with clements of epic and satire.
Emily is the first of a series of interesting portrayals of females in the Tales. She is, almost, a stereotype of a female character: though, significantly, her will is laid out as entirely separate to her actions. She does not wish to marry cither of the knights, preferring a life of chastity to marriage. However, she acknowledges her role as a pawn in the situation and accepts the destiny proscribed to her by the goddess Diana and the mortal IGng Theseus.
Smart Facts= Chaucer is an unerring master of i ini z poetic form combining the well-proportioned grace of his French models and the Eola riming couplet of his later works. a
William Langland's poem vestigates th i

Having already had 5 husbands "at the church door," she has expenence cnough to make her an expert She see nothing wrong with having had 5 husbands and cannot understand Jesus' rebuke to the woman at the we
11, who also d 5 husbands. Instead, she prefers the biblical ommand to go forth and multiply
She has been married five times and is already waiting for her 6th husband. The first three were old and rich: they died after she could gain mastery over them. Her fourth husband was young. but he had a mistress. Jankin was her
&fth and most favorite husband

Once when Jankin was reading aloud from his Book of wicked Wives, she tore a page from his book and he knocked her down so hard that she was still deaf from it She pretended to be dying and when he leaned over and asked for forgiveness, she knocked him into the fireplace
They made up and he gave her full control of sovereignty

The Wife of Bath uses the prologue to explain the basis of her theories about experience versus authority and to introduce the point that she illustrates in her tale: The thing women most desire is complete control ('sovereignty') over their husbands. Because she has had 5 husbands, the Wife feels that she can speak with authority from this experience and. in the prologue, she tells how she got the upper hand with each of them.
Smart FACts

In the days of King pla. Be beautiful and solitary

I'he girl's outraged family appeals 4)md he condemns the youth to the court one day maiden and ravishes her to King Arthur for justice , . the death Visi the Queen and her ladies take pity on he tragic young Knight and persuade the king, bioucll vouth to their judgment he Queen She the yous to spend a vear traveling, all across the country in i ; 8 At the end of the year, he is to return to court an be able to tell the Queen, what itis that

If he cannot provide the correct his life.

After a vear of searching for this knowledge the vouny knight different answers that he despairs of surviving his teal As he sadly and reluctantly begins his journey back to the court, he sees an exe cedingly ugly old woman. When he tells her of his wad state, the old woman promises to give him the answer he is secking, if he will swear to grant her has received, so many anything she wishes. The voung, Knight eagerly gives his word in exchange for which the old hag confides to him the proper answer to the question proposed by the Queen The old woman accompanies the vouth back to the court. When they are ushered into the presence of the Queen, she asks, if he has learned, what at is that women most desire. He gives her the answer supplied by the old woman: that women wish to have complete control over their husbands, their love affairs and to be the master of ther men
After this answer turns out correct, the old hag claims her wish. She asks the knight to marry her, On their wedding night, the old woman proceeds to lecture him on the trivial nature of appearance. Then, she gives the Knight two choices: she can be either ugly by day, but loyal and faithful for the rest of the time; or beautiful by dav, but disgraceful and unfaithful for the rest of the time. The knight, truly perplexed by his entire situation, leaves the choice to he and asks her to decide. The woman pleased rewards him both.
The Wife of Bath's Tale is referred to technically as an exemplum, a story told to illustrate an intellectual idea. In this case, the tale is to provide an answer to the question
"What do women most desire?" The answer provided is: the man must give the woman the upper hand in marriage, if he wishes to be happy.

**Prologue to the Tale**

After the Physician's Tale, the Host is deeply affected and wishes to hear a cheerful tale. The more genteel members of the company: fearing that the Pardoner will tell a vulgar story, ask the Pardoner for a tale with a moral. In the Prologue, the Pardoner then goes on to explains the methods that he employs in his preaching. He always starts with the text 'Radix malorum est cupiditas' ie, 'Love of money is the root of all evil'. He then shows his official certificates; his license and says a few words in Latin. This also serves to inspire devotion among the people. He then displays his fake relics such as the shoulder bone of Jacob's sheep that can cure sick cattle and also cure jealousy in men. He also shows his mitten that would bring prosperity to its owner once he parts with money to buy it. The Pardoner then warns the people that he will not sell his relics to sinners and only good people can be absolved by making an offering to him. He admits that this is the way, in which he has earned 100 marks in a year. He says that he preaches from a pulpit like a priest.

He bluntly admits that profit is his only motive and he doesn't care a straw about rebuking sinners. He candidly acknowledges that while he preaches against all kinds of sin, he himself indulges in various vices and begs from the poor to make a fine living. He knows that, while he himself is guilty, he knows how to preach against avarice and make people repent. The Pardoner says that although he is a vicious fellow he can tell a tale with a moral and asks the pilgrims to listen.

Pardoner's Tale

There once lived in Flanders a company of three rioters, who did nothing, but engage in sinful behaviour. At this point, the narrator interrupts the tale itself to launch a lengthy diatribe against
drunkenness mentioning Herod, Seneca, Adam, Sampson, Attila the Hun and St Paul as either sources or famed drunkards. The three drunkards hear a bell tolling a funeral and a boy tells them that a friend of theirs, killed by a thief called Death, is about to be burried. The tavern keeper says this fellow, Death, has slain a whole village about a mile from there. The three drunkards swear an oath to find Death and slay him before nightfall. They head out for the town the tavern keeper mentioned. Shortly, they meet a very old man, who points them to an oak tree, where he says they will meet death. The three men rush to the spot and to their surprise, find eight bushels of gold coins. They are extremely happy at their stroke of luck and resolve to keep the gold for themselves. But they decide to move the treasure at night to avoid being accused of robbery, to decide, who would £0 to provisions and wine for g, io would guard the golq. c the shortest straw of the men dr soon as he departs ah et s the oo hatch a conspiracy to kil] y, other t d divide his share amongst th, youngest man also greedy an brings a strong rat poison and thy, himself He © Ie mixes the poison in two boy, bottles of hes third one clean. When he returmg to and keeps other two men kill him and they, sit the oP drink their wine that has been Poisoneq, They also meet deat h on the spot. Thus, all of the, die through trickery and treachery bom of their greed.
In the

The Pardoner

ends his story by castigating wickedness, greed, gambling, lechery and lust. He tells the pilgrims to desist from avarice and displays his pardons that can save their souls. He promises to put down their names on his prayer roll and absolve them by his holy power.

He calls upon them to buy his relics and pardons and immediately get absolution. He suggests that the Host, who is the most sinful should make his offering first. The Host becomes extremely angry at this suggestion and hints that the Pardoner is a eunuch. The Pardoner becomes, so enraged thathe does not utter a single word in response. The worthy Knight then resolves the quarrel and restore mormaley. The form of The Pardoner’s Tale is an Allegory. In an allegory, the characters personify a stract qualities; the plot is meant to teach a mord! esson. In this case, Avarice Gluttony and Sloth meet Death at their own ha ds: i her words:
these vices lead j 5 anc Si in other

Invariably to spiritual death. John Wycliffe and the Lollard Movement Lollardy wis a medieval reform movement based on the writings ancl teachings of the Oxford University theologian, John Wycliffe. Wycliffe's followers were known as The Lollards, Tt was used as an abusive term and was derived from lollium, which was uscd carly in the 14 century in the sense of a ‘hypocrite’.
Wyecliffe’s followers or the Lollards not only attacked many beliefs and practices of the church, but also demanded social reforms,
The main beliefs of the Lollards were (i) The pope had no part to play in worldly affairs.

(ii) The church was too worldly. (iii) Monasticism had drifted from its spiritual foundation.
(iv) The Bible should be available to everyone in their own language.
(v) ‘Dominion is of Grace’, that is, true power is God's and attempts to use power for individual gain is therefore wrong.
(vi) As human beings, we arc all brothers,

The Lollards preached to the common people in the English language and sowed the seeds for the reformation movement. The initial spread of
Wycliffe’s views touched all levels of English medieval socicty; he was supported by nobility and
; came the voice of t}

rominent academics and in many ways bg he | er cl; pe by prominent ac: But it was among the lower clagg, RUE Gate anc fea during adherents. Though Wycligg, that Lollardy had its most ¢n es Modi
himself died in 1384, Lollardy as a movement lasted until well ing, the following century.
‘The Lollard movement naturally blended with eo ation of the carly 16th century. Thomson, in his Later ko pour ve or
“by the time the Roman establishment was os « ied by the Anglican, Lollardy was developing into I don ay o : pus ly, these spread into the Covenanters and Non-conformis 30 reat
Britain and America and indeed to every part of the globe,

Wycliffe’s Important Works

The Truth of the Sacred Scriptures (1378) States that the Bible contains all that is needed for salvation. The Scriptures should be read by all men and not just the clerics.
The Pope's Power (1379) Describes the papacy as an occupation instituted by men and not by God.
Apostasy (1379)

Transubstantiation.

Condemns the Roman doctrine of

On the Eucharist (1380) Denounces the idea of the idea of Christ's real, or corporeal, presence in the Eucharist after consecration, For Wycliffe, the validity of the depends upon the sanctity of the one receiving it, not on the consecration of the priest. Trialogue (1382) Calls for a vernacular trans] ation of the Bible for
the laity.

Historical Chronology (The Age of Chaucer)

1337 Hundred Years’ War between England and France begins.

1340 English defeat a Franco-Caslilian fleet at Sluys off Flanders.

1346 English defeat the French at the Batlle of Crécy.

1348 Black Death’ enters Britain.

1356 Edward the ‘Black Prince’ (Edward III's son) defeats and captures John II, King of Franca,

1377 Edward lll dies and is succeeded by Richard Il

1381 The Peasants Revolt takes place.

1382 Winchester College is founded.

1384 Church reformer John Wycliffe dies.

1387 Geoffrey Chaucer's ‘Canterbury Tales’ appears.

1394 - 1395 | Richard Il makes an expedition to Ireland.

1399 Henry IV is proclaimed King of England.

Te EY WIV

BRITISH LITERARY HISTORY

A QUICK VIEW CHAPTER ONE
he transitional eriod

| landmarks. (1) Uiterature ween the Middle Ages and Modern Era was studded with important a ©SP. poetry, changed over from the oral to the written - literature was authorship - till then : nd readers. (2) With the advent of printing, anonymity was succeeded by particular author. Th d od for itself; now it claimed attention as the work of a oC originality, of individual self-expression had begun. (3) Though
tort tooaatin were sill popular among the nobility and the clergy, English had established itself as the feudalism was SN its decline. | (oc ransiations, adaptations and imitations. (4) The age of chivalry and ' . onstitution i H unquestioned authority. al liberty has been asserted; the king was no longer the ngland was at the height of glory. (victories at war, patriotic national disappear. Between 1348 and 1376 Black Death visited the country on disappeared. Economic troubles followed; serfdom changed to house became increasingly unpopular.The Seven : a new poll-tax was imposed in 1380 and the next year, the peasants rose in revolt which was ultimately suppressed.

Chaucer gave little heed to these disturbing events. He lived the inner life of a man of letters, finally, in The Canterbury Tales, making his mature art the obedient instrument of his native genius. His

contemporary Langland was very different from him in spirit - Langland’s was the- voice of the poor, the voice

of revolution, and he was a chastiser of the vices of his age. Gower too denounced the follies of his

contemporaries though not as sharply as Langland. Another voice of spiritual protest in this age was that of John Wyclif, the leader of the Lollard Movement that prophesied the

Reformation. Supported by his patron, John of Gaunt, Wycliff attacked the corrupt clergy in strong persuasive English prose that breathed a fervent moral and religious spirit.

Untiringly he led a crusade against papal demands and for church reform. Wyclifism was finally suppressed and this in turn extinguished not only religious freedom but also all intellectual life at the j i i naissance.

pa Ad pple in the 14™ century produced one of the greatest of all English poets—Geoffrey

Chaucer—and several lesser ones, the result of which was to fix the English language. In spite of their antiquity Chaucer's works are still read with the sense that their vocabulary and the style are Modern English.

GEOFFREY CHAU oy be called the founder of the true line of English poets. His greatness and national the first. His genius had been recognised in all ages including his pi hc iin ved f oe trae ah the court and was employed on several diplomatic missions to italy' and own. Chaucer serve ok was perhaps the translation of Roman de la Rose. Some scholars divide Chauger's

France. His earliest bh Dried the middle period (both French and Latin influences) and the Italian period, but

career into the French p oo riate. An important early work is The Book of the Duchess written on the death this division is not oT ts patron John of Gaunt. Other works of Chaucer are Legend of St. Cicilia, of Blanche, Che wire I, jilus and Criseyde (based on Boccaccio's Filostrato), House of Fame (unfinished),

Parliament of Fowls, ro d on Boccaccio's Teseida and revised as the Knight's Tale), Legend of Good Women Palarnon and Arcite (base n: Cleopatra, Thisbe, Dido, Hypsipyle and Medea, Lucrece, Ariadne, Philomela, 9 stories of famous Yn transtation of Boethius's Consolation of Philosophy. Another prose work (apart

Phyllis, Hypermnestra) nT atise on the Astrolabe written for "Little Lewis", probably the author's son. But from this heb aks To indeed The Canterbury Tales - 17000 lines in prose and verse of various metres. e greatest of 29 pilgrims in the Tabard Inn

The Seneral Prologue to The Canterbury oles Cemticy, the innkeeper). Detailed pen-pictures of 21 of at Southwark (31 pilgrims, including the poet and Harry Bailey, Cook, Wife of Bath, Clerk of Oxford, Friar,

them are given which include Knight, Squire, Miller, Reeve, Coo ' host proposes that the pilgrims should Summoner, Pardoner, Prioress, Merchant, Monk, Parson, etc. The hos 25 Lr way back; he will award a shorten the road by telling 4 stories each—2 on the way to Canterbury and aE ak fon pilg ris tell stories free supper on their return to the teller of the best story. The work is incomp np 9 pion concludes with the and there are only 24 stories altogether. The narrative begins with the Knight's Tale Parson's Tale which is a long prose treatise. . le Chaucer was rimarily a storyteller. He also possessed the technique and the temper of a omast. he introduced personal touches into many of his poems, sometimes charming, sometimes humorous; an 1 4 rarely philosophized on human affairs and the

mysteries of existence. But though Chaucer was primarily storyteller, he had little gift of plot - a gift very rare in his day. (Almost every work of his had a direct source

and his poems, he left incomplete). However, being a court poet, Chaucer was bound to handle themes for which no model could be found. (Blanche's death, Richard II's marriage). He did produce a charming poem on | every occasion but they were always short and made use of conventional forms. The device of dream, for |

instances, is used in the prologue to The Book of the Duchess, in The Parliament of Fowls, and again in the Legend of Good Women and in the House of Fame.

It cannot be denied that Chaucer overcame his shortcomings through hard work and became a | master of his craft. He set to work as From the outset he possessed two great him enriching his abridged material wit until he retold the story in his own way,
Chaucer recognised the power of Knight's Tale he shortens the descriptions of three temples of Mass, Venus and Diana, to make his poems | appeal to the more thoughtful readers, he adds ethical and philosophical passages from Latin, French and Italian sources, especially the Consolation of Philasophy by Boethius. ! In romance, Chaucer showed great dramatic power, and Arcite. In Troilus he translates half of Boccaccio's Filos especially in Troilus and Criseyde and Palamon | trato and adds twice as much of his own. Thus Petrarch and Boethius, and investing Criseyde with a pathos and Pandarus with a humour and worldly wisdom of which there is little trace in the original. Palamon

By now Chaucer seems to be confident that if he followed a story he realize the characters in it for himself and know the details of the action b the plot. He needed to keep no book in front of him while he wrote; beginning, a middle and an end, which he could rehandle in his own way his gift for minute description in the Prologue.
had read or heard he could Y which they would carry out all he needed was a story with a humble cook. The whole poem is a valuable hi culture of English men of the time. Chaucer had a perennial interest in the lives seems to have been very observant - he watched how the way they wore their clothes. He was ready to call every rascal a good fe!
portrait. He admired goodness with an open mind, but it h his rascals than his noblemen. N
Chaucer's world is distinguished by its happiness. There is pain and per lexity in it but no agon or rebellion. Fortune is all powerful but never too harsh. Of moral and pl od u gony to have been ignorant, he knew only of the material o ne can bring abo ctims of these he was very sympathetic. However he had a deep sense of alls. ut, and to the vi
Chaucer's characters never shared any part

of his own personality or life. He was always present with the audience rather than the Characters themselves. In short, his genius was essentially narrative.

**: EARLY TUDOR POETRY**

he reign of Henry VIII was rocked by momentous events in the political, religious and domestic spheres

Partly owing to the national preoccupation with the national affairs, partly due to the reluctance of

1 noble men to come forward as professed authors, most courtly verse written during Henry

VIII's time was published only after his death.
In 1557 Richard Tottel published Songs and Sonnets, written by the right honourable Lord Henry

'Howard, Earl of Surrey and others. Surrey, who was then no more, was singled out for mention because of his

exalted rank. The other important contributors of the Tottel's Miscellany were Sir Thomas Wyatt Kichibtas

2 Grimald, and Lord Thomas Vaux.

Sir Thomas Wyatt, English nobleman and diplomat, was an important literary figure of 16M century

England. He is believed to have come under the spell of Anne Boleyn for a time, for which he won the allathe TRQ displeasure of tKe king later, though temporarily. Though, like Surrey, Wyatt had been influenced by foreign masters, he was an enthusiastic reader of Chaucer and borrowed many stylistic and formal features from him.

~ As was fashionable in Henry VIII's Court, Wyatt wrote yrics that riers pe "Some of Wyath fyi show beginning "A Robyn / Joly Robyn" was immortalized by the fool in Twelfth I ed from his Italian influence, |¢

French influence, especially his rondeaux, but it cannot be clearly distinguis d a new era in English post

Was as a student of Petrarch, Serafino, Alzmani and fr to He re opens ry and introd » the epigram and the terza rima to . .. .
Thoughane apne: th 31 30 of his sonnets have been traced to Italian ereinals Amainty re rarch), Wyatt was no slavish follower of his master. In the sestet he deviates from the Petrar \Y me and rhymes cdd cee. Thus he introduces a final couplet to which the Elizabethan sonnet has clung in alt its variations Wyatt' rarchan lines to his considerably

Ss sonnets exhibited a robust and defiant spirit and adapted Pet own English circumstances.
Wyatt showed greater mastery over a simpler verse form, ottawa rima, in which most of his epigrams are written, in which he borrows chiefly from Serafino. Wyatt also wrot, e 3 satires, one of which he dedicated to Sir lends Sale

Poynz. These are written in terza rima, the metre used by Alamanni in his Satires. } .

The moral fervour of the Satires tums to the pleading of a penitent heart in the Penitential Psalms, of retino's Psalms are the source. } Co

In his verse Wyatt is present throughout as a man of affairs and a moralist. His interests were not insular but European and he brought English poetry into the great tradition of Gr France and Spain. eece and Rome, of Italy,
Henry Howard, the Earl of Surrey mourned Wyatt's death in a fine elegy. Like Wyatt he seems to have In career and fortune both poets were akin to each other. asses Wyatt in_his sensitivi rrowings from Italian an and the other two to John which A Day. Though

in his | s earlier rhymed version, his translation had an kable quality. Surrey's innate se equipped him to interpret Virgil.

Walter Ralegh. By The Faerie Queen ionifi i ract and Elizabeth | in particular, who also figures under the names 0 ia ld eh to rina. Twelve of her knights - examples of twelve virtues - each undertake an adventure. Prince Arthur, symbolising 'magnificence' has a vision of the Faerie Queene, and determined to seek her out, is brought into the adventures of the Knights. The book odo does not present Arthur but starts at once with the adventures of the knights. I. The adventures of the Redcrosse Knight of Holiness (The Anglican Church); i. The adventures of Sir Guyon, the Knight of temperance; In. The legend of chastity, exemplified by Britomart and Beplhoebe;

IV. The legend of Triamond and Campbell exemplifying Friendship;

V. The adventures of Artegall, the Knight of Justice;

Vi The adventures of Sir Calidore, exemplifying Courtesy.

There is also a fragment on Mutabilitie, which was to have formed the 7th book. The book is modelled to some extent on Ariosto's Orlando Furioso. The work is written in the Spenserian stanza.

The Faerie Queene is an allegory on multiple levels. It is the moral allegory of Glory, the political one of Queen Elizabeth and the religious allegory of the Anglican Church. There is also a historical level and at times Arthur is to be identified with Leicester, Artegall with Lord Grey of Wilton and Duessa with Mary, Queen

of Scots. In fact Spenser's genius and imagination were too fertile to move at ease within the limits of allegory. He had a vast framework to fill, and he crowded into it the most diverse materials. But, even though there is no structural unity, there is an inner spiritual one. It is the epic of the militant spiritual life, ever battling with evil in its many forms, unwearied in the quest for Honour. However, in spite of his strict moral sense, Spenser had a keen sensibility for Beauty which is very much part of his work. Perfectly matching the rich complexity of The Faerie Queene is the nine - lined Spenserian stanza ending with the Alexandrine and rhyming ababbcbcc. The Faerie Queene does indeed foretell a golden age of English literature, being a poetic masterpiece worthy to be set beside the plays of Shakespeare, the prose of the Authorized Version and the prophetic vision of the Baconian philosophy. urlagimnanon.

## CHAPTER EIGHT

## ELIZABETHAN POETRY AFTER SPENSER

SIR PHILIP SIDNEY : n Arcadia, Sidney's poetic imagination makes itself present in the prose passages rather than the vers =~

1 In the verse pieces he indulges in metrical experiment, resulting in a laboured Src: rt from form Arcadia are mostly in the English form. But Sidney introduces variations in the form. os pa tient in the sonnets in Arcadia are of the imitative Petrarchan type, playing with conceits, clothing s : fanciful embroidery. . : Rsiropiel cad Stella changes over from

the languor of Arcadia to the tumultuous rot of passion, based, as in other Elizabethan sonnet-series, on authentic personal experience, on Sidney's undying pi of

Penelope Devereaux. This is in support of the theory that desire is the strongest literary hi on o Elizabethan love sonnets. Lamb declared that Sidney's sonnets were written "in the very hey-day blood". Indeed, their magical quality is born of their union of hot-blooded passion with Supefsseiists idealism. Virtue herself takes Stella's shape and there's nothing that their splendid passion cannot draw into its flaming orbit. Thus this sonnet-cycle has something of the sweep and purgative effect of tragedy.

SEVENTEENTH CENTURY POETRY INTRODUCTION TO THE AGE |

he 17% century is marked by the long struggle between the King and the Parliament which came to its

climax with the execution of Charles | in 1649. The struggle was in part political, in part religious. The country suffered the disturbance and distraction of a civil war. England was sharply divided, class against class. Generally speaking, the aristocracy and their dependents were Cavaliers; the commercial and trading classes supported the Parliament.

The growth of Puritanism had important consequences in the social and literary life of the nation. Not because the Puritans were ever strong numerically, but their leaders were men of strong and serious character, calmly determined and obstinately fanatical. They were especially hostile to the theatre, as we may read in Prynne's Histriomastix and there was a complete closure of all dramatic performances in 1642 - a final blow to the languishing Elizabethan drama. Art and Literature came under a similar suspicion, unless they were didactic in intention. It is thus natural that no great national literature thrived during the period of Puritan ascendancy. Cromwell and his government became bitterly unpopular and after his death there vras a general welcome to the exiled Charles. Charles Il was tolerant and broad-minded, but he was dissolute, cynical and unprincipled, and his court soon became as scandalous as it was merry. In literature he preferred wit and sparkle to imagination and ecstasy; the rhetoric of Dryden's plays and the impudent satire of Hudibras were more pleasing to him than a dozen Paradise Losts. In fostering a taste for such plain and unambiguous writing he did English prose an immense service. When the. theatres reopened, two types of plays were prevalent - the heroic drama and the comedy of manners. Both these types are of strong literary and social interest, but even when they resound in Dryden's best verse, they are essentially prosaic. The characteristic work of the age is prose in itself or in conception. In the famous diaries of Pepys and Evelyn we can read in prose about the everyday lives and thoughts of men. Even though Charles and his court did not, the people read Bunyan and they could still behold the beauty of imaginative prose that had lucidity and force.

Finally, we have to credit Charles with his encouragement of science through the foundation of the Royal Society (1661). The work of this famous institution is a memorial more lasting than bronze to Charles's tastes.

**JOHN MILTON ,**

milton was In his youth (as seen in his Latin epistle to Diodati - Ep HE sara 4 the same Home: stuie y sociable youth, a lover of music, dancing, women, plays and eguRty P arl

works include L'Allegro ang p religious, high-minded and modest, a man of Protestant views. His e intessence of English life, and He Penseroso, Arcades, Comus and Lycidas. The first two of these offer a quint socks light-hearted mie ne contrast in these 2 poems is that of 2 moods. Under one influence a oa the harvest, in the simpte fea e delights in the cheerful sights and sounds of the morning, in the haytime a e is in pomps and pageants ts of the country folk. If he has left the country for the town, his pleasur he loves the quietude or" In sumptuous weddings, in comedies and masques. Under the other a hilosophy, the stemer il a country, the trim garden in the repose of evening, the study of astronomy an ules po Ludlow Castle) we € of Poetry the more religious notes of music. Arcades and Comus (a masque Er er (a Puritan work at re set to music by Henry Lawes. Appearing after the publication of Prynne Aig adie is evil in itself. Not stage plays) they show that Milton did not share the extreme Puritan view tha ise in blank v 2 o the use of the dramatic form but its misuse was the evil. Comus is Milton's first exercise he wp erse. Lycidas is a pastoral elegy on the death of Edward King. In this poem Milton refers to the myt so me rortd, the teachings of Christianity and the political and ecclesiastical problems of Milton's own time. Milton's sonnets are in the Petrarchan form, 5 of them being written in Latin. Many of the sonnets serve as outlets to the deep poetic feeling which only awaited leisure for the making of a great work. Milton retumed to poetry in the last phase of his career. The epic poem Paradise Lost, onginally in 10 books and subsequently rearranged in 12, was, first printed in 1667.

**Summary of the poem**

Bk I - The poet states his theme (the Fall of Man through Disobedience) and his aim (to justify the ways of God to men). The defeated archangel Satan and Beelzebub are seen to be in the burning lake ot hel, Satan convenes a council and his palace Pandemonium is built. Bk II - The Council debates over the means of revenge. Beelzebub announces the creation of earth and man,

Satan undertakes to visit earth alone.

Bk Il| - Milton invokes celestial light to illumine the darkness of his eyes. God is described and his success as

well as the fall of man through free will is foretold. The Son of God offers himself as a ransom and is exalted as the Saviour. Satan alights on earth.

BK IV - Satan overhears the conversation of Adam and Eve about the Forbidden tree of Knowledge and resolves to tempt them.

Bk V - Eve has a dream of temptation inspired by Satan. Raphael, sent by God, warns Adam about 'he temptation. Raphael's narration about Satan's rebellion.

Bk VI - Raphael's narration.

Bk VII - Raphael's narration ends with the creation of the earth and man.

Bk VIIi - Adam talks of his life in Eden, the creation of Eve, etc.

Bk IX - Satan tempts in the body of a serpent, Eve brings Adam to the Forbidden fruit; Adam, recognizing that she is doomed, resolves to perish with her; they eat the fruit, lose innocence.

Bk X - Adam and Eve confess before the Son of God.

Bk XI - Michael relates to them their future—the death of Abel, Flood, the New Covenant.

Bk XII - Michael narrates the rest of the O.T. an

Tacking of Man, so in Paradis L man's restoration. In the earlier work there is unity, but not simplicity.

Milton's taste, growing ever simpler, preferred Paradise Regained, because its theme has unity as well as simplicity. But the later work is far below in greatness and is a mere rep conflict between good and evil. etition of the theme of eternal For Samson Agonistes, published along with Paradwn. Thoise Regained, Mil se physical affliction was the same as his o ugh a closet drama model ack 2 hero whose palled on Gr tics have claimed that its spirit is more Hebraic (or Christian) than Hellenic. eek tragedy, critics As a writer, Milton's towering statur Was recognized ear polemical prose as well as of subtle lyric harmon described as "one of the greatest, most noble and sublime p produced". Poets and critics of the 18™ century were profoundly i his treatment of the Sublime. But murs of dissent from Dr. Johnson, Addisal Hell, commented that Milton was "the Devil

party without knowing it". Shelley regarded Satan as the real hero of the poem. In the 20" century, T.S. Eliot was a strong critic of Milton.

MILTON'S GRAND STYLE

Sublimity of thought and grandeur of style mark Milton's verse, where matter, meaning and melody blend harmoniously together. Milton is vexed with rhyme and advocates the free usc of epic verse (blank verse) so that he may explore all possibilities of poetic expression. He considered rhyme to be an invention of a barbarous age and no necessary adjunct or ornament to a poem. Milton improved upon the blank verse used by Shakespeare and his followers: he added latinisms, inversions, periphrases, and other paraphernalia. Critics do not take the same view of this innovative blank verse. Blank verse is known for its concentration and flexibility, and Milton deprived it of these qualities. But those readers who value

the ceremonical aloofness of epic verse hold that these sacrifices were worthwhile. Miltonic epic verse, cannot even be compared to dramatic blank verse - the former is heroic and used for achieving a grandeur and loftiness that suited Milton's themes.

Milton's verse is highly stylized, effortlessly perfected by a mastermind. It is written in magnificent, majestic language and its sound and gait are unparalleled in English poetry. The management of sound and stress creates a sonorous effect. In spite of the many latinisms and allusions, Milton's verse is strikingly simple and beautiful. The poet is never obscure in his lines; he is always lucid. Milton often varies his style to relieve the reader from monotony. C.S. Lewis said of his style that "it is a grand great stream upon which we are embarked."

Milton’s similes impress the readers intellectually, aesthetically and physically - they are not only

appropriate to the situations but also open up a new world of myths, fables and classical allusions. Miltonic

similes, though classical, are very original and different. Here the vehicle of course resembles the tenor, but the simile does not stop there. Many more points of interest are quickly and successively brought in, creating a rich matrix of comparisons. Sound, meaning, thought and feeling get integrated. These similes are also digressive and echo mythology as well as a great tradition of literature which the epic falls back upon. Pope said rightly of his style: “what oft was thought but never so well expressed”.

It can probably be argued that Milton's Grand Style does not suit lighter themes. But Milton was a man of solemn thought and there is not one line that he has written in the lighter vein. All his works deal with serious themes in a classical manner. They are carefully calculated to produce a mighty impression upon the ear, mind and imagination of men of scholarship. That they did superbly well, and shall continue so in the days to come.

THE METAPHYSICALS AND CAVALIERS

By the end of the Elizabethan era lyrical poetry and sonneteering had grown stale in the artifice of the conventions of chivalry and courtly love. To rescue poetry from such pretensions, to restore to it its high seriousness, became the object of the early 17% century. In this connection much work was done by a group of poets whom Johnson (in his Life of Cowley) called the ‘Metaphysical’ School. Accepting the Platonic definition of the poet as an interpreter of divine mysteries and drawing from it the corollary that he might become the handmaid of natural philosophy, these writers tried to ennoble poetry by applying it to the phenomena of science. Poetry was no longer “a pretty toy” to win a mistress, but an arduous quest undertaken for a higher satisfaction. The style, to be worthy of the subject, must be cryptic and difficult. In short, poetry, while retaining the note of inspiration, was to convey a sense of intellectual efforts. However, the diction should be simple and the language unpolished, reflecting the roughness of life. The result of this theory is to be found in the elaborate subtleties of Donne and the abrupt “strong lines” of Cleveland.

JOHN DONNE

The inductive method advocated by Descartes and Bacon in the spheres of philosophy and science was first applied by Donne to the problems of love. Throwing aside the chivalric love doctrine, he set himself to discover the laws of the heart by scrutinizing the emotions themselves. His quasiscientific attitude and determination to find what is natural sets Donne apart from other contemporary poets, and marks the change from medieval to modern sentiment. |

Donne's early secular poetry is characterized by brutal sensuality, coarse cynicism, fury, hate ‘and despair, while his later religious verse centres on mystical rapture and valiant faith. His control aver his ideas is often uncertain. A cynical fancy will change under his pen to a noble surmise, and a lofty speculation to a cheap jibe. He seems to have written as

a means of self-revelation, following the chance connections of ideas as they surged through his brain. He turned similes to metaphysical conceits, yoking dissimilar ideas violently together. His imagery is intellectual rather than sensuous, and he bases his poems on syllogistic argument.

Donne, and more so, the other Metaphysicals like Herrick and Marvell, employed the 'carpe diem' philosophy in his (their) poetry. It was Herrick who wrote: "gather ye rosebuds while ye may".

Donne's poems are original, serious, fervent, and restless; and their sincerity is somehow emphasised by the sense of effort which they always convey. His poems were borne of original IDeas of thought, inspiration, and are the adventures of an inquiring spirit, "voyaging through strange sea of ght, alone".

JOHN CLEVELAND

Cleveland seems to have been the leader of a "rugged" sect of Cambridge poets (as opposed to Ly "court sect" led by Davenant) who cultivated an obscure and harsh style of verse called - go on fo obscurity of style, which disgusted many critics Including Hobbes and Dryden, vas in fact the Cleveland's popularity. : -

The modern critic will however agree that Cleveland's poems are overloaded vrith emi oe never dwells upon a single concelt, but leaps from one to another suddenly, at right angles to hier os a progress of the poem. This coarse fertility gave him his fame, but also killed the "Metaphysical" style as a literary medium. The novelty of his style is often so surprising that it becomes, unintentionally though, comic.

**THE EARLIER CAVALIERS**

Thomas Carew, in his poetry, uses Donne's thoughts fn a different manner and for a different end, trying to mitigate their harshness in his mellifluous verse. He often makes Donne's exalted fancies trivial and mean—the sonorous slowness, the awkward syntax and the general sense of effort which add much to Donne's power have vanished in Carew's verse.

Throughout Sir John Suckling's poetry, there runs a vein of cynicism which he had learned from Donne.

He excels Carew in his power of vulgarizing what he borrows, but unlike Carevs, he never attempts to follow

Donne in his nobler flights. Suckling's verse voices the swaggering philosophy of disfllusion which marks all subsequent Cavalier poetry.

Many of Richard Lovelace's poetry breathes the finer sentiments of chivalrous love that is absent in

Cavalier poetry. But the rest of his verse is marked by cynicism and disillusionment. Having little wit and no

humour, he is often tedious and lacks the ease of Suckling. But he v/as alvrays original and fell in with the fashion of writing 'strong lines'.

Robert Herrick, the author of Hesperides, was a fashionable writ before he took holy orders. Thouzh he was faced with the dismal prospect of writing religious verse, he could not quite forsake his old self. He vas a poet of the 'senses', not of sensibility—his verse is full of scents, sounds and colours. He is entirely unromantic, unpreoccupied with desire, and therefore unafraid of it. At his touch the fairies emerge from their glamour to become merely exquisite miniatures of man, and Mature, shorn of the mystery that she held for .nany of his contemporaries, exists to provide coronals for Julia (one of the many mistresses he invented) anc''texts for his own meditations. He succeeds best with themes which alloyed of a semiclassical treatment.

**THE RELIGIOUS POETS**

George Herbert's poetry has been supposed to show the influence of Donne. But Herbert, unlike Donne, always wrote as simply as he could. The conceits and quibbles of his poems were admitted only on sufferance. Herbert was a fanatic neither in religion nor poetry. Far from following Donne in his revolt against Elizabethan literary fashions, he adopts them all placidly. The Temple contains sonnets and many Arcadian and euphuistic turns of expression. He did not try, like Donne, to evolve a new style, but only sought to demonstrate how the style already in existence might be applied to pious uses. Donne's conceits are the substance of his thought, Herbert's are nearly always illustrations of a thought that would be complete without them. It is the simplicity of Herbert that is the secret of his power Though Richard Crashaw, for a time, wrote "strong lines", his poetry shows a delicacy of sentiment and fancy. The turning-point in his career was his reading of the works of St. Teresa. This completed his religious and imaginative development, and resulted in the amazing poems - Hymn to St. Teresa, The Flaming

Heart and Odes. He makes no concessions to human weakness. Like most mystics, he assumes a certain spiritual condition in his audience, and hence his readership is limited. Crashay/ lays 'bold hands on the wild metaphors of passion, dedicating them to the creator as the spoils of w

1.The images of wounds and blood which the ordinary hymn-writer makes disgusting, and the old A lypti i hands a new language of the soul, ' PAcENRTE Symbols, become fn Crashayg In his youth Henry Vaughan imitated Donne's condensed an : : effect. Later he turned to Cleveland's 'strong lines'. His best work Shien Spe © Is teatro es Temple. But Herbert, to Crashaw, was a stimulus rather than a schooling. The idea of Hatu 5 reat emanation of the Holy Spirit, and of himself as part of it, is always present to his mind vy re 2s on di quality that reminds one of Wordsworth rather than of Herbert. » and gives his poe

his childhood as a state of innocence. In his flashes of mystic ial ne eas Vaughan looks wistfully back but he lacks the graceful rhetoric with which the latter can enhance the amr, 2 DEtter poet than He hance t :falters as his vision fades. ce the commonplace. Also, his eloquence Most of Thomas Traherne's verses and prose meditations. turn upon the childhood and the wisdom of innocence. From this narrow circle of great ideas he ho es of mn c Ree the wish to escape. He seems to be one who, having had one great jmaginative moment, spends tne rest or ms life meditating upon it. The common notion that Puritans were distinguished by distrust of the arts is not supported by the history of 17" century

poetry. The Anglicans Herbert and Vaughan distrusted poetry so far that they tried to make it the vehicle of religion, it was the Puritan Marvell who first clearly realized that "the Muse might be respectable without going to Church". This discovery, which is implied in the poem 'The Coronet', saved him from the qualms of conscience that assailed Donne, Herrick and Vaughan. Endowed by nature with an unusual sensibility to beauty in all its forms, he was able to indulge it with an untroubled mind. He could write in the

'Metaphysical' style of Donne without imitating his brutality, and he attained something of Herrick's 'witty delicacy' without his affectation. Donne only succeeded when he was grave, Herrick when he was gay, but Marvell could write well in any mood. 'To His Coy Mistress', for instance, begins in playful banter but ends in tragic fury. His nature poetry is interesting not only for its Wordsworthian mood of introspection, but also for his avowed preference for the wilder aspects of nature.

LATER CAVALIER POETS

So much was John Dryden a man of letters that hardly any literary subject was alien from his pen, impelled as it was by a continual pressure of thought. Thus, throughout his life his judgement steadily improved, while to the end there was no loss of power. His first poetic work of note was the Heroick Stanzas written upon the death of Cromwell. Though neither this poem nor Astrea Redux, with which he greeted the return of Charles Il, was quite free from conceits, both had a promise of vigour partly realized in Annus Mirabilis. Here the heroic quatrain popularized by Davenant is employed. His first satire was Absalom and Achitophel written on Monmouth and Shaftesbury, which shows a mastery of the heroic couplet. Ina political satire Juvenalian moral indignation is out of place. In its place Dryden put a lofty scorn which was far more biting. Dryden shows no weakness of mercy to the jndividual but lifts his theme above the plane of personalities and presents thé: person as a type of the evil embodied in him. In The Medal he resumed the attack of Shaftesbury in a sterner mood, and a stupid reply from Shadwell occasioned the writing of MacFlecknoe. The poem gave the hint for Pope's Dunciad, but unlike his successor Dryden did not allow his contempt to degenerate into spite. )

In an age of theological controversy Dryden could hardly ignore the strife. A Tory in sentiment, he disliked the multiplicity of sects. His religious views find voice in Religio Laici which is an imitation of Horace's Epistles. It was a strong defence of the Church of England but it was unfortunate that this was immediately followed by Dryden's conversion to Catholicism. Dryden justified this change in The Hind and the Panther. In

this allegory the Christian Churches are represented by different beasts. The work is irregular and digressive, and handles a controversy in which the author was no expert, but the satiric parts show the master's hand. Dryden's lyrics were mostly written to be sung. His odes, though not quite free from false ornament or a touch of banality, have a sonorous splendour which secures them a lasting popularity. They make no attempt to take their imagery from the phenomena of nature. Towards the end of his career Dryden, in translations, found subjects which suited his talents. His translations of Chaucer, Juvenal and Ovid are noteworthy.

However his version of Aeneid is coarse and reckless.

Edmund Walter has attained fame as the author of “Go, lovely Rose” and “On a Girdle”. He wrote many love-verses to Lady Dorothy Sidney but they are conspicuously insincere. His other poems are of little account, except the didactic verses of his old age. Sir William Davenant’s main claim to fame is bound up with the history of the English sta poetic work is Gondibert, which is of no great merit. ~ . ge: His ghict Samuel Butler had a bitter, scornful character and was full of hard commonsense. mainly negative; he hated the Puritans and his satirical power was great. The idea of Hudibras Ns Raker rom Don Quixote and his aim was solely to satirize the Roundheads. tie oan His characters are types with little Abraham Cowley stood between two ages. His conceits, his ‘Metaphysical’ subtletics, his dialectic pedantries, belong to a decadence, while as a man of science and polish he heralded an age of reason and prose. (He was also the inventor of the Irregular Ode)

POETRY OF THE 18™ CENTURY ALEXANDER POPE

lexander Pope was indeed the most impressive figure in 18" century poetry. He was slightly deformec A and of small stature. Except in his earliest years he never enjoyed health, a fact which explains, it is said. his malice and untruthfulness. His earliest work, written when he was about 17, wa Pastorals— the verses are imitative but occasionally show real feeling a melody which falls short only of the great masters of the shepherds' verse. Their promise, however, was unfulfilled—the spirit of the age and interactions with. intellectuals lad their author along other lines. Essay on Criticism is a call to return to the ancient classical models and the critical principles of Aristotle, Longinus and Quintilian; in Pope's view, neither Shakespeare nor Milton nor even Dryden had been disciplined to those principles. Another major poem of this period is Rape of the Lock. Lord Petre, having forcibly cut off a lock of Miss Arabella Fermor's hair, the incident gave rise to a quarrel between the families. With the idea of resolving the quarrel, Pope treated the subject in a playful mock-heroic poem Rape of the Lock, on the model of Boileau's Le Lutrin. He presents Belinda at her toilette, a game of ombre, the snipping of the lock while Belinda sips her coffee, the wrath of Belinda and her demand that the lock be restored, the final wafting of the lock as a new star to adorn the skies. Rape of the Lock remains for all time the true reflex of the social and literary grace of a classic age, and a perfect model of delicate satire. In later years, Pope revised the poem, introduced elemental spirits like gnomes and sylphs into the narrative, thus creating a delightful parody of the classic epic.

Vallaths TES 27 . vas suggested bY penham's Cooper's Hill and Wordsworth fog

1 was Sugse ture to historical associati Windsor Forest as a descriptive poet inal, it passes from na ations, in it some new images of external nature. Like its Paised the Tory Peace of Utrecht, and Pope began tq find The poem (as the result of a quarrel with Addison), P his friends among the Tories. tinuous ! Pope's translation of the Iliad has enjoyed OF critics have sal A D poem, Ar. Pope, but you must not call it Hower. mplicity and archaism of Homer. His style in the translatigy, it is not Homer. Pope never tried to acq His pog was the natural style of the age and of his own mie, e phrase never seem forced or pedantic. The vers pelard and Elegy to the Memory of an Unfortung, Pope wrote two sentimental poems, and the feeling in them is indeed genuine, w; Lady. Both poems were long regarded as models of one ith these poems appeared the Ode on SC Day. his genius did not lie in the lyric but elsewhere. . of which he supplied the material in Pot te a philosophic poem, ; Prose le st Pope to We Cli See edn PROSE 1 ev

little more than a reckless amateur, the poem has litte i ;

of the passages are brilliant. Connected with Essay on Man are the chia 0 bility brutality, about this time, made a conquest of Pope. These essays mark Fop

OTHER POETS OF THE CLASSICAL TRADITION de tative of the "enc

Virgil and the classics, was pre-eminently fond of pastoral verse. Gay's is notable as a first attempt at realistic pastoral at a time when the artificial pastoral of Pope and his followers was in fashion. EL a Be Fh eo Ey aE Se ee wach Pop trayed in "The Ra ' of the Lock." » ig 5 d manner, Gay dealt with that artificial world which Pape po = BADE Lock," but in

“Trivia,” Gay deliberately chose London as the inspiration of bs song. The poer is a vivid and interesting description of “The Town” in his day. The influence of
“The Town"

ines With his earlier love of country verse to produce a number of Town Eclogues whose spirit is that of It was as a playwright that Gay reached success . §

Here he attacked the Government of Walpole, nat eh time ride tha posse Opers appesty

Addison ha * burles in Re a ’ ddison had already burlesquad in Rasemond. The sequel Polly was prohibited upon public stage.
OLIVER GOLDSMITH

Goldsmith's first great poem was The Trav Gale eller. 0 imagined hi io

Shrines inposn he Ese reveals in his Eh: a re he Te fee himself to be toa et the sstiinens ity - ict fied tha second half of the 18% century. In this e erted Village, a Oe parts
Hina ge story, islhuioned fre the Hd Haro of ater Sp pi of pee. mS:

is not created by externals, but is implanted d 11.3 vain search for happiness, only to discover that happi Goldsmith's second great poem, The poet dealt with the sorrows of those forced by careless | Was exceedingly popular. In The Traveller ie aN to seek a relief from poverty by emigrate shows Goldsmith has also written some light, society verses. Edwin and Angelina is an attempt at the ballad style of poetry which Bishop Percy's Reliques was then making popular. Of Goldsmith's songs, the best-known is the one in the Vicar of Wakefield:

The Ruins of Rome and The Fleece are his major works. Dyer had an intense love for the scenery of the Welsh hills and he had a musical delight in recounting the scenes through which his childhood had strayed. Dyer’s observation of nature was exact and in this respect he excelled even Milton. His is a painter’s, rather than a poet’s eye. His poetry sometimes labours under contemporary diction but professes a love for the simplicity of the country than for the town. However some of his contemporaries attacked him for being too coarse and injudicious. The literary rebellion was in its infancy and even Walpole who had started the rebellion in architecture and fiction failed to see that he had an ally in Dyer. William Shenstone was Dyer’s contemporary mostly remembered today for his reminiscences of childhood. His poetry did not have much poetic quality but his ex perimentations with the trisyllabic metre and the touch of pathos in his works are notable. i MEE Edward Young, though over-ambitious and rather unscrupulous as a person name in late 18M century peetry. His principal works are The Last Day ) Love and The Complaint or Night Thoughts. He has also written a insincerity can be believed to have ruined his work whenev passion. As a poet of transition he has made some m ai PALE J abandoned the couplet and turned to blank ve Jor sontributions to form. In Night Thoughts he rse. Later h should abandon old models and rely on their own inspiration. defended blank verse and argued that new pofg had remained a major The Force of Religion or Vanquished few tragedies and satires. Young's

er he attempted to scale the heights of thought and James Thomson is best rembDErea 10r 111 35asuld itu 1116 wuotie wy) rorrcamrom—s - descriptive poem in blank verse;

the latter is in Spenserian stanza and describes in two Cantos the enchanted castle of the wizard Indolence and the conquest of Indolence by the Knights of Arts and Industry. The Seasons can be considered the first longpoem which is centred on nature instead of man. lt does not however entirely break free of the conventions of its age—its vocabulary is highly Latinized; its style omate and rhetorical and the movement of blank verse often suggests the couplet. However Thomson emerges in this work as a real lover of nature and treats rustic people and manners in such detail as was often deemed vulgar in the London drawing-room. The Castle of Indolence shows his love of Spenser, his 'master' and is indebted to Spenser for its Gothic machinery. Though Thomas Gray's work is small in quantity, it is so exquisite in quality that he has secured a

place among the finest poetic artists in English literature. Gray's 'Augustan' phase produced a number of noteworthy efforts like de Principus Cogitandi, Agrippine, A Hymn to Ignorance, Ode on the Spring, To Adversity, etc. They are conventional in form, imagery and diction and his lyric poems were indebted to

Dryden. Then came An Elegy Written in a Country Churchyard in which signs of the new spirit are discernible—faithful rendering of landscape, the churchyard setting, sympathy towards the poor, the twilight atmosphere, and the mood of pensive melancholy.

The Elegy marked the second phase in the evolution of Gray's poetic career. The third phase was marked by intense romanticism as in The Progress of Poes y and The Bard, and even more in the poems of
Celtic themes - The Fatal Sisters, The Descent of Odin, etc. Gray's letters offer a commentary upon his poetic development. They show how keenly he followed the influence of the 'new spirit' in literature and ow responsive he was to every development. Gray held strongly that "the language of the age is never the language of poetry". He was professedly indebted to Dryden and had small regard for the philosophers of his own age. All of Gray's poems are charming in spite of flaws in workmanship. His Pindaric odes are not the most popular but perhaps the most perfect. Critics have differed widely on the merits of Gray's work. This is probably because Gray belonged to the transitional school and critics are prone to highlight the one side or the other of him. In his language, ornaments, his inversions and personifications, Gray is of the classical school but his sense of grandeur and sublimity, his love of nature and the rural, mark him the herald of the coming age.

In William Collins's poetry, one can discern a warm heart and a keen sense of beauty. But in form he was faulty. Collins was politically a disciple of Milton and he openly sang the virtues of republicanism. The works of Collins are mainly lyric or elegiac; in his Odes he shows exquisite taste and an inborn sense of song. The most remarkable of Collins's poems is the Ode on the Superstitions of the Highlands of scotland. Completely emancipated from the Augustan tradition, it establishes Collins as a pioneer in the revival of Romanticism. i

Thomas Chatterton, another major transitional poet, showed even as a child an extraordinary faculty for exploiting the weaknesses of human nature. Though he died young, he had a man's familiarity with the evils of the world. Chatterton's poems fall into two categories - those which he acknowledged and those which he ascribed to Thomas

Rowley, a mythical 15% century poet. The acknowledged poems are miscellaneous in character and prove the writer's versatility. Even though they do not quite break free from Augustan conventions, many of them show great vigour and skill. The pseudo-antique 'Rowleian' poems deceived critical readers with Chatterton's imitations of 15%" century dialect, but contain many borrowings from 18% century poets and anachronisms in thought, phrase and form. These poems show the growing strength of the Gothic revival in the transitional period. )

William Blake was a mystic and visionary with great imaginative insight into life. His principal works are Poetical Sketches, Songs of Innocence, The Book of Thel, The Marriage of Heaven and Hell, The Gates of Paradise, Songs of Experience, Jerusalem, etc. Most of them can be regarded as 'apocalyptic' literature and to the casual reader appear chaotic and obscure. They display daring originality and pregnancy of thought, and have a spontaneity and charm that cover up their technical imperfections. They are harbingers of the

Romantic tradition in their lyricism, democratic sentiment, love of nature and simple life, and of childhood and home. Blake shows influence of the Elizabethans and Spenser, of Percy's Reliques and of Chatterton.

Robert Burns, Scottish poet endowed with the marvellous gift of song, was supreme in his lyrics though he also made a considerable impact through his descriptive poems and satires. Absolute sincerity lies at the root of all his work. His work was fashioned from his own soil and experiences and he always remained a faithful spokesman of the Scottish peasants - his best work is almost entirely in his Scots poetry, while his 'English' poems are too literary in flavour, falling into the artificial mannerisms of the time. Bums's poetic ancestry is to be sought among his Scottish predecessors, especially Allan Ramsay and Robert Fergusson. More than any other poet of his age, he brought the passion of the natural man into verse. Bums was much affected by the revolutionary stir of thought at the end of the century. The reward for his sincerity and perfection has perhaps been that his writings have become a part of the English speaking world to an extent scarcely paralleled except by Shakespeare. . . . :

George Crabbe has been considered a great realist of English poetry. He takes his subjects from actual life. His guiding principle is the uncompromising adherence to visible truth. His reaction to poetic falsification of life led him to dwell too much upon the dark and sordid aspect of hdman nature. He depicts the incidents of domestic life and the beauties of landscape with a narrative charm and touch cf humour. He did not show much Romantic influence in matter, spirit or style, and was much attached to the heroic couplet. Later in his career however he experimented with other metres. william Cowper, sensitive and disappointed in life to a level which drove him to mental imbalance, reflects in his art the morbidity and tragedy that characterised his life. His poems also attest his tender love

for man and nature, and the playful humour which even his religious fanaticism and derangement was powerless to destroy. His early writings are mainly didactic and satirical pieces, consisting of Table Talk, Progress of Error, Truth, Hope, Charity, etc. In matter and form they are in general harmony with the tastes of his time, though they are simpler. His later poems of importance include The Task, An Epistle to Joseph Hill, John Gilpin

and The Castaway. In his work Cowper was singularly independent of theories, movements and schools. His poetry is one of immediate experience and in it the personal note is strong throughout. In' views of the extreme subjectivity of romantic literature this fact is historically important. Cowper's fine | humanitarianism is one of the most persistent features of his poetry - he proclaims the brotherhood of man, denounces slavery, speaks boldly about war, advocates political liberty and attacks Bastille as the symbol of oppression. Despite much admixture of the old formalism, no man did more than Cowper to bring back into | English poetry the accent of nature and sincerity.

CHAPTER TWENTY-ONE ROMANTIC POETS

the tum of the century, fired by ideas of personal and political liberty and of the energy and sublimity| of the natural world, artists and intellectuals sought to break the bonds of 18th-century convention.

Although the works of Jean Jacques Rousseau and William Godwin had great influence, the French

Revolution and its aftermath had the strongest impact of all. In England initial support for the Revolution was

primarily utopian and idealist, and when the French failed to live up to expectations, most English intellectuals

renounced the Revolution. However, the romantic vision had taken forms other than political, and these developed apace.

In Lyrical Ballads (1798 and 1800), a watershed in literary history, William Wordsworth and Samuel

Tay'or Coleridge presented and illustrated a liberating aesthetic: poetry should express, in genuine language, experience as filtered through personal emotion and imagination; the truest experience was to be found inf | nature. The concept of the Sublime strengthened this tum to nature, because in wild countrysides the power of the sublime could be felt most immediately. Wordsworth's romanticism is probably most fully realized in his great autobiographical poem, "The Prelude" (1805-50). In search of sublime moments, romantic poets wrote about the marvellous and supernatural, the exotic, and the medieval. But they also found beauty in the lives of simple rural people and aspects cf the everyday world.

The second generation of romantic poets included John Keats, Percy Bysshe Shelley, and George

Gordon, Lord Byron. In Keats's great odes, intellectual and emotional sensibility merge in language of great

power and beauty. Shelley, who combined soaring lyricism with an apocalyptic political vision, sought more, | extreme effects and occasionally achieved them, as in his great drama Prometheus Unbound (1820). His wife,

Mary Wollstonecraft Shelley, wrote the greatest of the Gothic romances, Frankenstein (1818). Lord Byron was the prototypical romantic hero, the envy and scandal of the age.

He has been continually identified with his own characters, particularly the rebellious, irreverent, erotically inclined Don
Juan. Byron invested the romantic lyric with a rationalist irony. Minor romantic poets include Robert Southey- ed eC today for his story “Goldilocks and the Three Bears”—Leigh Hunt, Thomas Moore, and Waltef

WILLIAM WORDSWORTH

Wordsworth's personality and poetry were deeply i i ] v ply influenced by his love of nature, especially by th sights and scenes of the Lake Country, in which he spent most of his mature life. A oreteundly earmest and sincere thinker, he displayed a high seri i i conderness and a love of Snapliciey.
Reaper,” “Resolution and Inde "ou ie Mw : with Us.® pendence,” “Daffodils,” “The Rainbow,” and the sonnet “The World Is Too MU Although Wordsworth was venera
declined. He was criticized for the uneve his transforrnation from an open-mind place things and people as if His use of the language of ordinary speech W& iid In the 19th century, by the early 20th century his reputation hat ed liberal Poetry, for his rather marked capacity for bathos, and cramped conservative.
Although Coleridge had been busy and productive, publishing both poetry and much topical prose, it was not until his friendship with Wordsworth that he wrote his bes A t poems. In 1798 Coleridge and Wordsworth jointly published the volume Lyrical Ballads, whose poems and preface made it a seminal work and manifesto of the romantic movement in English literature.

Coleridge's main contribution to the volume was the haunting, dreamlike ballad “The Rime of the Ancient Mariner.” This long poem, as well as “Kubla Khan” and «Christabel,” written during the same period, are Coleridge's best-known works. All three make use of exotic images and supernatural themes. “Dejection:

An Ode,” published in 1802, was the last of Coleridge's great poems. It shows the influence of (or affinity to) some poetic ideas of Wordsworth, notably the meditation upon self, nature, and the relationships among emotion, sense experience, and understanding. His Confessions ofan Enquiring Spirit (ed. by his nephew H. N.
Coleridge) was published posthumously in 1840. Coleridge worked for many years on his Biographia Literaria (1817), containing accounts of his literary life and critical essays on philosophical and literary subjects. It presents Coleridge's theories of the creative imagination, but its debt to other writers, notably the German idealist philosophers, is often so heavy that the line between legitimate borrowing and plagiarism becomes blurred. This borrowing tendency, evident also in

some of his poetry, together with Coleridge's notorious inability to finish projects—and his proposal of impractical ones—made him a problematic figure. Coleridge's lifelong friend Charles Lamb called him a “damaged archangel.” Indeed, 20thdentury editorial scholarship has unearthed additional evidence of plagiarism; thus, Coleridge is still a controversial figure. However, the originality and beauty of his best poetry and his enormous influence on the intellectual and aesthetic life of his time is unquestioned. He was reputedly a brilliant conversationalist, and his lectures on Shakespeare remain among the most important statements in literary criticism.

LORD BYRON

Ranked with Shelley and Keats as one of the great Romantic poets, Byron became famous throughout Europe as the embodiment of romanticism. His good looks, his lameness, and his flamboyant lifestyle all contributed to the formation of the Byronic legend. By the mid-20th century his reputation as a poet had been eclipsed by growing critical recognition of his talents as a wit and satirist. Byron's poetry covers a wide range. In English Bards and Scotch Reviewers and-in The Vision of

Judgment (1822) he wrote 18th-century satire. He also created the "Byronic hero," who appears consummately in the Faustian trag edy Manfred (1817)—a mysterious, lonely, defiant figure whose past hides
some great crime. Cain (1821) raised a storm of abuse for its skeptical attitude toward religion. The verse tale Beppo is in the ottava rima (eight-line stanzas in iambic pentameter) that Byron later used for his acknowledged masterpiece Don Juan (1819-24), an epic-satire combining Byron's art as a storyteller, his
lyricism, his cynicism, and his detestation of convention.

**PERCY BYSSHE SHELLEY**

Shelley composed the great body of his poetry in Italy. The Cenci, a tragedy in verse exploring moral deformity, was published in 1819, followed by his masterpiece, Prometheus Unbound (1820). In this lyrical drama Shelley poured forth all his passions and beliefs, which were modelled after the ideas of Plato.

Epipsychidion (1821) is a poem addressed to Emilia Viviani, a young woman whom Shelley met in Pisa and with whom he developed a brief but close friendship.

His great elegy, Adonais (1821), written in memory of Keats, asserts the immortality of beauty. Hellas

(1822), a lyrical drama, was inspired by the Greek struggle for independence. His other poems include Alastor

(1816) and the shorter poems "Ode to the West Wind," "To a Skylark," "Ozymandias," "The Indian Serenade," and "When the Lamp Is Shattered." '

Most of Shelley's poetry reveals his philosophy, a combination of belief in the power of human love and

reason, and faith in the perfectibility and ultimate progress of man. His lyric poems are superb in their beauty, grandeur, and mastery of language. Although Matthew Arnold labeled him an "ineffectual angel," 20th-

century critics have taken Shelley seriously, recognizing his wit, his gifts as a satirist, and his influence as a social and political thinker.

JOHN KEATS

The son of a livery stable keeper, Keats attended school at Enfield, where he became the friend of Charles Cowden Clarke, the headmaster's son, who encouraged his early

learning. Apprenticed to a surgeon (1811), Keats came to know Leigh Hunt and his literary circle, and in 1816 he gave up surgery to write poetry.

His first volume of poems appeared in 1817. It included “I stood tip-toe upon a little hill,” “Sleep and Poetry,” and the famous sonnet “On First Looking into Chapman's Homer.”

Endymion, a long poem, was published in 1818. Although faulty in structure, it is nevertheless full of rich imagery and color. Keats returned from a walking tour in the Highlands to find himself attacked in

Blackwood's Magazine—an article berated him for belonging to Leigh Hunt's “Cockney school” of poetry—and in the Quarterly Review. The critical assaults of 1818 mark a turning point in Keats's life; he was forced to examine his work more carefully, and as a result the influence of Hunt was diminished. However, these attacks ao not contribute to Keats's decline in health and his early death, as Shelley maintained in his elegy onais.” .

Keats's passionate love for Fanny Brawne seems to have begun in 1818. Fanny's letters to Keats's sister show that her critics’ contention that she was a cruel flirt was not true. Only Keats's failing health prevented their marriage. He had contracted tuberculosis, probably from nursing his brother Tom, who died in 1818. With his friend, the artist Joseph Severn, Keats sailed for Italy shortly after the publication of Lamia, Isabella, The Eve of St. Agnes, and Other Poems (1820), which contains most of his important work and is probably the greatest single volume of poetry published in England in the 19th century He died in Rome in Feb., 1821, at the age of 25. BE

In spite of his tragically brief career, Keats is one of the most important English poets. He is also among the most personally appealing. Noble, generous, and sympathetic, he was capable not only of

passionate love but also of warm, steadfast friendship. Keats is ranked, with Shelley and Byron, as one of the three great Romantic poets. Such poems as “Ode to a Nightingale,” “Ode on a Grecian Urn,” “To Autumn,” and “Ode on Melancholy” are unequalled for dignity, melody, and richness of sensuous imagery. All of his poetry is filled with a mysterious and elevating sense of beauty and joy.

Keats's posthumous pieces include “La Belle Dame sans Merci,” in its way as great an evocation of romantic medievalism as “The Eve of St. Agnes.” Among his sonnets, familiar ones are “When | have fears that

| may cease to be” and “Bright star! would { were as steadfast as thou art.” “Lines on the Mermaid Tavem,""

“Fancy,” and “Bards of Passion and of Mirth” are delightful short poems. Some of Keats's finest work is in the unfinished epic “Hyperion.” In recent years critical attention has focused on Keats's philosophy, which involves not abstract thought but rather absolute receptivity to experience. This attitude is indicated in his celebrated term “negative capability”—*“to let the mind be a thoroughfare for all thought.”

ENGLISH POETRY

1. A Brief Introduction

Lesson (a) : An Introduction to Elizabethan Poetry

Traditional champions of English Literature often take pride in poetry being its inevitable strength. From the days of alliterative poetry of old English, its poetry has taken giant strides to become a force to be reckoned with. During the middle ages, writers like Chaucer gave it a sense of direction that ih

seemed to require. Chaucer with his inimitable wit and humour and the memorable and life-like pictures of English society of his day made an indelible impact on the readers. Spenser who succeeded him

offered a greater variety in content and form as well. He eveninvented a nadirical stanza that came to be known by his name. He tried his hand at pastoral poetry, epic and even occasional verse. He gave poetry the Romantic direction that English poetry continued for several years almost uninterruptedly.

But for exceptions like Ben Jonson with his classical poetry, the trend persisted in some form or the other.

Forms of verse were many and varied in Elizabethan times. Sonnets and lyrics of various kinds occupied the centre stage. The sonnet form was imported into English, by Wyatt and Surrey. In the beginning it was the Petrarchan form that was in vogue, transported from Italy with love, Butin the hands of Shakespeare the form had undergone serious changesit form. While the sonnets of Petrarch had an octave and a sestet, with the first eight lines presenting a problem and the next six lines trying to solve the same. Shakespeare introduced a sonnet form with three quartets and a couplet, with the problem slowly unfolding and the solution mostly confined to the couplet, Elizabethans also penned sonnet sequences rather than writing them in ones and twos. Sonnets were mostly meant to be literary exercises, but in some cases they are ruaoured to be written to a purpose or to achieve an objective, Thus it is often argued that Shakespeare was requested by a patron to persuade his son to marry, as the young man was reluctant to marry. Its said that Shakespeare took upon himself the task of persuading

The first twenty -six sonnets, it is often said, are addressed to the young man in ay

the young maf. attempt to persuade him to marry.

uinstsucha background, ones likely to be misled into the belief that Elizabethan pocirgainsly an outpouring of emotion. This is far from truth. Romantic in content, the poetry had still allwas me the requirements of a conscious art. It was coherent, logical and even rhetorical in its strategies, It seemed to be lacking in realism, brevity and compactness. Shakespeare and after him Donne tried to infuse these deficient qualities into Elizabethan poetry. On the other hand, we have Ben Jonson with his love sonnets and other varieties of lyrics. Classical in tone and based not on his experience of nature,but based on knowledge derived from books, the poems are a class of their own. However Donne and Jonson were among the chief influences on the poetry to follow. There was thus a school of Donne and a school of Jonson. Jonson's verses were representative of a sense of economy and control as opposed to the smooth and easy flow of the majority of Elizabethan writers. The flexibility that Donne tried to infuse into his lyrics was a remarkable departure from the logic, argument and reasoning that marked many of the

Elizabethan poems. The queer admixture of reason and logic that came to be described by Jonson as an attempt to yoke heterogeneous ideas by violence together. was the typical characteristic of Donne's poetry. Milton, who was described by some as the last of the Elizabethans in spiritifnot in time, was a highly individual voice.

1dual voice. Milton the Puritan was also Milton the humanist, trying to combine the two

Opposing straj ai . . :

& Strains of Hebraism ang Hellenism with an amazing degree of success. The cheerful man and the reflective map, = formed the OPPOsing strains of two early poems *L* Allegro and 'Ii Peneseroso'.
written by him, 'Lyciqac' 5

Lycidas' sy

Pposedly written to commemorate a dead schoolmate, dealt with Milton's anger i ger against the enemies of Puritanism. pLaradise Lost, Paradise Regained and Samson Agonistes were the products of Mj

ilton's i inat;

O'S imagination, Poetic ambition and mature craftsmanship.

Augustan Poetry

The label *Augustan Poetry" is applied to the poetry of the Restoration period. It includes the poetry of Dryden, Pope and their contemporaries. During the reign of Augustus the Roman emperor, great literature flourished in Rome. The re of Dryden and Pope, the critics felt, merited a

comparison with the Roman writers who lived during the rule of Augustus. The term ' Augustan' isnot

very specifically used in terms of the period or time as historians and critics take liberties with the span of time which can be described as ' Augustan'. Another label that has been used with regard to the

poetry of this period is 'neo-classical', as the poetry of this period, unlike its classical counterpart, is

more obsessed with form than content, more with reason and analysis than with creative imagination

The initial enthusiasm for the classics having been diluted. the form of the classical writers came to be regarded with more attention.

The Restoration period was spoilt by sexual | promiscuity and licentiousness. Midnight entertainments ruined the English society. The immorality of the stage as it was attacked by Jeremy Collier was a result ot all this. All tne writers of this period - Dryden, Pope. Addison and Swift were determined to advocate morals through their works. Natural human behaviour was preferred as the requirement for great works of art.

While it was true that the flourishing of trade and commerce resulted in respectability to the businessmen, the countryside was not neglected. In the religious sphere, the Augustans believed in moral laws whose basis was reason or revelation. Progress in that age was based on rational trends in religion and economic prosperity. Their prosperity had not much to do with political philosophy of the times. Parliament and its procedures became as important as monarchy. There was a growing political ess among the people. The political strife of the Whigs and Tories deeply influenced the writers awarene: :

i or p compelled the writers to take sides. Besides, social distinctions of the period. The need for patronage also played a vital role in dictating the tastes of the age.
“In literature. reason was far more pronounced than imagination. The reading public grey,

[e o arew in proportion. The publication industry had wo work Bard to face fy,numbers. The writers to

In the interests of their own survival. the writers of the age had to cater wo the tastes of yh ciillenge. Intheblic. The people of the age wanted a realistic portrayal of the society in w hich they lived. The write

public. The gobliged, as they realized that people were ultimately their true patrons. Thus the growing reading public dictated the taste and content of literature produced during the era. The deep afliliations of \ugustan

literature to the social concerns of their age arc a product of this unmistakable rend. The Augustans respected decorum and decency as a social necessity for someone to be re omnis sen gordilemar Reason and order became the hallmark of Augustan literature. The poets respected reason and

orderliness more than anvthing else. Years later. Arnold describes Dryden and Pope as prose classics, as these qualities become prose rather than poetry. Poetry of the period reflected the belief ol the

Augustans in social welfare and happiness for everyone. Precision and clarity became the watchwords

of literary style as logic and reason were respected more than imagination. by the writers of the period.

Intellect dominated their writings. Social realism and social concerns were deeply interwoven with

literature.

Augustan age has fis come 0 be known as the neo-classical age. While it was true that the,

Augustan writers derived inspiration from the ancient classics of Greece and Rome. their excessive preoccupation with reason, intellect, precision and clarity and their insistence on orderliness in form resulted in classicism with a difference. True classicism is a harmonious blend of intellect and imagination. but this was not so with the Augustans. Hence the term “neo-classicism® came to describe heir, oe The Augustans used reason as a label of restrainisig emotions and feelings to a reasonable

Hit During the Renaissance, the'study of the classics nurtured imagination. but in later times. the for fthe anci i FR Clem wiilers started Capturing the attention of the writers in England. in particular during the Augustan or neo-class; ~classic ape : ge. which was also known as "The Age of Reason". The Augustans leant great deal from Horace. the Latin poet of and critic. To them. poetry was a craft that included accuracy

idiom and economy of expression. They preferred the heroic metre as jit could present the content id concise form. They loved to denude pociry ofits ornaments and they resorted to a very sparing usc of figures of speech. The presentation of an idea was more important to them than the ideaitsell. The poets of the age were most] urban-based. Their descriptions of the sylvan scenario were not based on direct personal experience. Satire was the preferred medium of Au vustan poetry. They explored and depicted man in relation to the society he lived in, Here also the Augustans followed Horace. their model. So their satire was gentle but not venomous like the satire of Juvenal.

Books for Further Reading

The Pelican Guide to English Literature: Vols 2 and 4.

Sphere History of Literature: Dryden 10 Jeligor K Model Questions :
1. What are the chief concerns of the poets of the Elizabethan times?

Describe the chief characteristics of Restoration poetry.

English Poetry: An Introduction

Lesson (b) : Poetry of the Romantic Revival

Romanticism is a complex movement, a synthesis of many ideas. English Romanticism, like

many other movements, is influenced by many European movements. The German Romanticism and

_the French Romanticism were the two influences that made an adequate impact on English Romanticism asa movement.
Under the influence of Rosseau, Romanticism came to be described as a return to nature.

Some have attached great importance to the element of wonder in the Romantic Movement. Imagination, nage, wonder, and a sense of nostalgia for the past were some of the qualities that
governed Romanticism as a movement. Imagination that could impart a sense of the natural to the

supernatural or a sense of the supernatural to the natural, constituted a very important constituent of

**Romanticism as amovement.**

Mother Nature was the prime inspiration toall the poets ofthis School. Even from childhood we are exposed to nature. It is nature that guides our footsteps as young children

very much like a mother. No wonder the vier of this school considered nature their teacher. The philosophy of Rosseau and the philosophy of Hegel and Kant made an indelible impact on English Romanticism. Beinga liberal thinker, Rosseau upheld the dignity of man and the ability of nature in inspiring him. The inspiration of nature moulded Wordsworth into a poet and the love of human freedom and dignity inspired writers like Shelley. Kant was a major source of influence on Coleridge. establishing the unity of experience.

The French Romanticism was slower in developing and exerting its influence. but when it did, it had a greater and more lasting influence on English Romantics.

The English writers saw the very image of the divine in lati: Tothem. in particular to writers like Wordsworth. nature was divinity incarnate. All the Romantics were pantheists. They believed that all the objects of nature contained a spark of divinity. It was transcendentalism that believed inthe universe that included nature as being one of the manifestations of the divine. To the transcendentalists, the universe was a scented handkerchief of the Lord. Thus the Gorman transcendentalist philosophy was probably behind the belief of the Romantic Revivalists that God was thete in every object of The memories of childhood, among other things, formed a major part of the foundations of

Romantic imagination as its integral part. Wordsworth who may be said to be a leader of the writers of - this school, made the well-known observation that the child is father of the man. In his 'Prelude',

Wordsworth speaks of the influences that he had gone through his childhood and which were later to influence his thinking and imagination as a poet. 'Fair seed-time had my soul and I grew up both by beauty and by fear alike'. Wordsworth calls the mind of man, "my haunt, and the main reason of my song". Even the objects of nature haunt the poet, "The roaring cataract haunted me like the passion", he says elsewhere. Watson argues that we can find romanticism through the individual perceptions and visions of Romantic writers rather than finding them by using the concept of Romanticism. Along with new. political and social ideas, new poetical ideas came into existence. The poetry of Wordsworth was thus inspired by his belief and expectations of the French revolution. It is no wonder when his expectations failed; his poetry came to be characterized with disillusionment.

The major poets of the romantic revival were Wordsworth, Coleridge, Blake, Keats, Shelley and Byron. Coleridge classified imagination into primary and secondary. The primary imagination is held to be a living power and a reflection of the eternal while a secondary imagination is conscious will.

Wordsworth spoke about the spontaneous and powerful emotion in an overflow as constituting the fabric of true poetry. Considering the poet as a man speaking to men, Wordsworth takes his inspiration from a solitary réaper or the dance of daffodils. In his childhood Wordsworth was influenced by tieguidices of nature, the wisdom and spirit of universe that guided the growth of his mind. The poet does rightly describe his! The Prelude' as the growth of a poets mind. While the beauty of nature inspired him, it als made him fear wrong actions like theft, for example.

For Keats, nature opened up the possibilities of permanence reflected in the song of a nightingale or the portraits on the Grecian urn. Keats presents an evolutionary thought

pattern running from ‘Ode to a Nightingale’ to the "Ode to Autumn’. In the Nightingale ode the poet’s attempts at permanence do not yield the desired results as the bird belongs to a different order and rejects the poet’s attempts at identification. The urn on the other hand gives an opportunity for permanence but the organic growth of the living principle is not shown on the urn as time is merely frozen on it. A compromise is attempted in the melancholy ode. The resolution is arrived at in the ‘Ode to Astin

The romantic poets have always celebrated their love of nature. In his ‘Tintern Abbey’ Wordsworth describes nature as the axichorof his thoughts, the nurse, the guide, the guardian of his

heart and the soul of his moral being. Byron, celebrating his love of nature, remarks that to him the high

mountains are a feeling. The poet observes that he cannot hate anything in nite as his soul can mingle with the sky, the peak, and the stars axnong other objects of nature.

The romantics were so closely connected with nature that they could use landscape asa symbol. The Romantics were thus associated with man in relation to nature, man in relation to man and man in relation to God. The poets took mountains waves and skies as a part of the soul. Blake for instance celebrates the dual aspect of God in his ability to create the merciful as well as the cruel beings of nature, the lamb and the tiger at once.

Books for further reading:

C.H.Herford: The Age of Wordsworth

J.R.Watson: English Poetry of the Romantic Period 1789-1830 Model questions:

1. What are the chief characteristics of the Romantic period?
2. How do the Romantic writers celebrate nature, man, and Goa

Ode

Originating in ancient Greece, ode poems were originally performed publicly to celebrate athletic victories. Later, this poetic form was favored among English romantic poets, who used odes to express emotions using rich, descriptive language. Today, we use the term “ode” to describe any outpouring of praise, and modern ode poems have evolved to include various styles and forms.

An ode is a short lyric poem that praises an individual, an idea, or an event. In ancient Greece, odes were originally accompanied by music—in fact, the word “ode” comes from the Greek word *aeidein*, which means to sing or to chant. Odes are often ceremonial, and formal in tone. There are several different types of odes, but they are all highly structured and adhere to poetic forms.

An ode poem is traditionally divided into three sections, or stanzas:

1. The strophe. In a Greek ode, the strophe usually consists of two or more lines repeated as a unit. In modern usage, the term strophe can refer to any group of verses that form a distinct unit within a poem.

2. The antistrophe. The second section of an ode is structured the same way as the strophe, but typically offers a thematic counterbalance.

3. The epode. This section or stanza typically has a distinct meter and length from the strophe and antistrophe, and serves to summarize or conclude the ideas of the ode.

The English Romantic poets wrote many odes, all of which explored intense emotions. While Romantic odes deviate in form and meter from the traditional Greek ode, they all tend to follow some kind of traditional verse structure.

**There are three main types of odes:**

Pindaric ode. Pindaric odes are named for the ancient Greek poet Pindar, who lived during the 5th century BC and is often credited with creating the ode poetic form. A Pindaric ode consists of a strophe, an antistrophe that is melodically harmonious, and an epode. Pindaric poems are also characterized by irregular line lengths and rhyme schemes.

Horatian ode. Named after Roman poet Horace, who lived during the 1st century, the Horatian ode consists of two- or four-line stanzas that share the same meter, rhyme scheme, and length. Unlike the more formal Pindaric ode, the Horatian ode traditionally explores intimate scenes of daily life.

Irregular ode. Irregular odes follow neither the Pindaric form nor the Horatian form. Irregular odes typically include rhyme, as well as irregular verse structure and stanza patterns.

**Famous Examples of Odes**

**Pindaric Ode**

Pindar's odes were delivered to boys and young men who triumphed in the Greek Classical games, and were performed with song and dance. A Greek chorus would move to one side of the stage to deliver the strophe, shift to the other side of the stage for the antistrophe, then deliver the epode from center stage. Pindaric odes experienced a revival in the 1550s in France, and derive from poetic imitations of Pindar's style.

For a classic example of a Pindaric ode, consider the first three stanzas of "Ode on Intimations of Immortality from Recollections of Early Childhood" by William Wordsworth:

**Horatian Ode**

Horace broke away from the strict structure of the Pindaric ode and focused on more personal, informal topics. Horatian odes were revived during the Renaissance, but were not meant for public performances: they are more often intimate reflections on friendship, love, and poetry itself.

One of the most famous masters of the Horatian ode was John Keats. Another English romantic poet, Keats wrote odes that feature beautiful, lush imagery, and a deep

exploration of the poet's own emotions. Keats odes that are much studied and loved today include "Ode on a Grecian Urn," "To Autumn," and "Ode to a Nightingale,"

**Irregular Ode**

Also known as the Cowleyan ode, after English poet Abraham Cowley, the irregular ode relaxes the structure of the ode poem even further. American poet Allen Tate's "Ode to the Confederate Dead," written in 1928, is an example of an irregular ode.

**Epic**

An epic (eh-PIC) poem is a long, typically novel-length, poetic work. It is a type ofnarrative poem, which tells a story, typically in third-personpoint of view, through the typical conventions ofpoetry. The conventions includerhyme,meter, or some other aural device, and they are used to make the tale more engaging and memorable. Epics tend to follow a hero who represents a perfect citizen of their culture. These stories are of cultural, historical, and religious importance.

**The History of the Epic Poem**

Epic poetry has roots in oral tradition, which predates the written word and was the way culture and history were preserved. Although a cuneiform version (character-based inscriptions) of*The Epic of Gilgamesh*was written between 1300 and 1000 BC, the story may have been told as early as 2150 BC. It was likely court singers who performed and passed down the story, preserving it until it finally appeared in written form.

**The Trojan Epics**

Homer, author of the epic poems*The Iliad*and*TheOdyssey*, was likely a court singer or a bard. Little is known about his personal history; some scholars hold that Homer couldn't have been just one person. His epics brought to life the stories of the Trojan War, though certainly the adventures of Achilles and Odysseus were told long before 700 BC, the rough date of Homer's works.

Virgil, a Roman poet, took inspiration from the Homeric epics and penned*The Aeneid*, an epic poem in dactylic hexameter. It too told the story of the Trojan War and its aftermath. This is perhaps the first well-known epic that was first written, rather than an orally told story that was eventually passed down.

**Other Early Epics**

Epics are stories that distill entire histories and cultures into something tangible and engaging. They deal with themes and archetypes that everyone recognizes. With cultural pride, people could see themselves in the humanity of thesepoems' heroes while aspiring to their divinity.

*TheMahābhārata* is the longest poem in history. It tells the story of ancient India, the Kurukshetra War, and the fates of two families. The poem started as a tale (or perhaps

several) told to entertain audiences. It was recorded in Sanskrit around 400 BC and now stands as an important source of Hindu beliefs and history.

The well-known*Beowulf*was a long-sung Germanic tale that found its way to the printed page between the 8th and 11th centuries. It follows the life of the heroic Beowulf and his encounters with monsters on his way to becoming a king.

Two of the most notable English epic poems are*Paradise Lost*by John Milton and*Idylls of the King*by Alfred Lord Tennyson, written in 1663 and 1885 respectively. *Paradise Lost* concerns the biblical creation and fall of man, while Tennyson's epic recounts tales of King Arthur and the Knights of the Round Table.

The Criteria for an Epic Poem

Because epics predate the written word, not every criterion is met in the older works. But, there are several common aspects worth noting.

Story Elements

The epic poem is told by a third-personomniscientnarrator, meaning they can see everything that occurs in the epic's universe, including the thoughts and actions of all the characters. The story begins *in media res*—Latin for "in the middle of things"—so the narrator often begins by summing up any rising action that occurred before the poem's beginning. The hero is also introduced in the beginning, as is the main theme or moral.

Epic poetry can be a helpful tool in understanding the religious and moral beliefs of a people at a point in history. The story's hero protagonist is the embodiment of a culture's ideals; the seemingly insurmountable obstacles they face often represent cultural challenges or concerns identified by the author.

Epic poems often take place in the far-distant past. They are sweeping tales with flowery language and long speeches. Readers are taken all around the world of the epic. This often includes visits to the underworld or some other form of afterlife, as death and mortality are common themes. Readers can expect to see the protagonist interact with deities or other religious figures who can alter the course of events. A character will often make a dramatic plea for the deities' help.

The Hero's Journey

This type of story—a classic structure of an epic poem—has pervaded literature, art, and popular culture since*Gilgamesh*(if not before). The story begins by introducing the reader to life as it always has been. From there, the hero is called into action, which is initially refused.

The final ordeal is the most difficult and dangerous task the hero faces, though they end up rising to the occasion and setting things right.

Look at the classic animated film *The Lion King*. It begins by showcasing the "circle of life," wherein animals are accustomed to the predator and prey dynamic. This is best depicted by the celebration of birth of Simba, a lion cub whose father Mufasa is King of

the Pride Lands. Simba is the hero of this tale. His call to action comes when Mufasa is tragically killed in a plot by his brother (and Simba's uncle) Scar. Because Scar leads Simba to believe the young cub had caused his father's death, Simba retreats to the desert. There, he encounters a meerkat (Timon) and warthog (Pumbaa) who guide him through his adolescence in the grasslands. In the rising action, Simba is reunited with his childhood friend Nala, who tells him that he must return to save the Pride Lands because Scar has taken over and made things miserable. Simba initially refuses, until an encounter with his father's ghost convinces him to confront his fears and accept his responsibilities. Simba returns home and battles his uncle to reclaim his rightful place on the throne. With Scar's defeat, Simba completes his hero's journey and saves his home.

Common Characters in Epic Poems

Most epics have a central epic hero. This character is often of noble or divine birth. They have naturally gifted skill sets, if not outright supernatural powers. Though the heroes are legends in their homelands at the beginning of the story, they remain humble and focused on the monumental task at hand. This hero often has a loved one they'll be reunited with at their quest's end. This supporting character embodies purity and fidelity. Another character is a guide or companion who helps the hero through their journey by providing company andperspective.

Of course, not every character aids the hero. Most epic poems have a "shadow," a character who shares some of the hero's characteristics but whose shortcomings the hero must avoid to complete their quest. In Tennyson's*Idylls of the King*, Lancelot is King Arthur's shadow, as the former's weakness stands in opposition of Arthur's purity. Some characters are purely oppositional, such as the "threshold guardian." In*The Odyssey*, when Odysseus finally arrives home, he is met with Penelope's many suitors. To reclaim his rightful station, he must fight them.

Mock Epic

Mock epic poetry is a type of poetry that satirises serious epic literature. It mocked not only this kind of poetry, but also epic subjects and themes in order to caustically address a slew of other major themes. Mock epic poetry deviates from the strictures of serious epic poetry. It takes liberties in order to convey its point and observations sardonically. Mock epic poetry developed during a period when serious epic poetry had become stale and stagnant.

*The main features of Mock epic include:*
*A sarcastic (mocking) tone.*

*a) The heightened or elevated style and form of the serious epic poem.*

*b) Ridiculing a trivial or inconsequential subject.*

*c) The use of invocation (prayer and supplication elements), battles, and epic similies.*

*d) The use of "deus ex machina" or "ex-machina".*

Ex-machina is an ancient theatrical tradition in which a plotted (created) character is inserted into a play to miraculously save the hero. This convention was also used to solve a complicated narrative. As a result, mock epic poetry adopted this technique and included it into its style of writing in order to ridicule various issues and themes.
Mock poetry's strength comes from the contrast between a trifling or inconsequential subject and the elevated style and form used to portray the trivial subject to the reader. This imparts a sense of humor or comic relief to mock epic poetry. The majority of mock-epics begin with an invocation to the muse and include traditional epic elements such as set speeches, supernatural interventions, and descents into the underworld, in addition to endlessly detailed explanations of the protagonist's activities. As a result, they provide ample opportunity for the author to demonstrate his or her brilliance and inventiveness.

Examples of Mock epic poetry include "*The Rape of the Lock*" by Alexander Pope as well as his poem *The Dunciad (1743)*, and "*Mack Flecknoe*" by John Dryden.

Augustan Verse Satire

Three terms are before us: Augustan, verse and satire. Augustan refers to 18th century literature, verse to poetry and satire is used as a corrective tool of the literature. It refers to 18thcenturypoetic form that mocks the society in order to correct its vices. Satire is a genre of literature in which vices, follies, abuses and shortcomings are held up to ridicule in order to improve them. The original Augustan Age was the brilliant literary period of Virgil, Horace, and Ovid under the Roman emperor Augustus (27 B.c.-A.D. 14). In the eighteenth century and later, however, the term was frequently applied also to the literary period in England fromapproximately1700to1745. The leading writers of the time (such as Alexander Pope, Jonathan Swift, and Joseph Addison) themselves drew the parallel to the Roman Augustans, and deliberately imitated their literary forms and subjects, their emphasis on social concerns, and their ideals of moderation, decorum, and urbanity. One of the most popular satiric modes during the Augustan period was the mock epic, a literary form that creates a burlesque of the classical epic. The satirist imports the formula characteristic of the epic—the invocation of a deity, supernatural machinery, etc.—to discuss a trivial subject. The use of classical epic devices thereby establishes an ironic contrast between the work's structure and its content, exposing the triviality of the satirical subject.

The best-known mock epics in the English language are John Dryden's MacFlecknoe (1676), an attack on Thomas Shadwell and Pope's The Rape of the Lock, a social satire. MacFlecknoe is a fine short satirical poem in which Dryden has treated Thomas Shadwell with humorous contempt. It is both a personal and literary satire. Dryden presents Shadwell as a dull poetaster, a plagiarist and an obese idiot. Dryden uses heroic couplet for satirical purposes. Although MacFlecknoe is a personal satire, but ultimately, Dryden uses the persona of bad poet to criticize the decline of literary standards of his time. Thus MacFlecknoe does not remain a mere lampoon on a personal rival, but becomes a delightful work of art – a satire on a larger social scale. And satire in the poem is enlivened with wit and humour. Dryden exposes the dramatic skill of Shadwell by saying that his comedies make people shed tears and his tragedies create laughter. His fools justify their author's want of sense; they are the models of dullness. Dryden also accuses Shadwell for

copying from others' work without paying the attribute to them. And further Dryden ridicules Shadwell's physical built up; Shadwell is a fat and bulky fellow but without brain and common sense.

The particular comparison of Shadwell to Jonson, in which Dryden says that the only thing that Shadwell has in common with Jonson is his potbelly, is devastating because Shadwell considered himself the true literary heir of Jonson. He suggests Shadwell not to base his characters upon experience and knowledge of mankind. Pope's remarkable poem The Rape of the Lock is essentially a social satire. The poem exposes in a witty manner the follies and absurdities of the aristocratic life of the 18th century England. The principal targets of satire in the poem are the fashionable and aristocratic ladies and gentlemen of the time. In this poem, Pope reveals himself essentially as the spokesman of his age. At the very beginning of the poem, Pope calls our attention to the idleness and late-rising aristocratic ladies of the time who possesses keen interest in domestic pets. The vanities of those ladies, such as their love of gilded chariots are also made known to us in the very beginning of the poem. Their ambition to get married to peers and dukes or other high officials is also ridiculed in the opening canto of the poem. Then, we can find that the coquetry, the art, the artifice and the false pride and vanities of the aristocratic ladies are the chief concern of Pope in this poem. These ladies in the very early of their life learn how to blush in a coquettish manner. Their heart shifts from one beloved to another according to their need.

They would sink on their rich quilts and pretend sickness so those young gallants should come to inquire after their health and should see the costly gown son their bodies. Toilet i.e, makeup-room is the chief concern of these aristocratic ladies. In The Rape of the Lock, Belinda is described at her dressing table. We are told that before commencing her toilet operations, Belinda offers a prayer to 'the cosmetic power'. She gathers all the fashionable items from all over the world-Indian glowing gems, Arabian perfumes, files of pins, puffs, powders, patches etc. Moreover, the moral bankruptcy of these ladies is further ridiculed. Thus, we may conclude that Pope attempts to expose the follies and absurdities of the royal English society in a witty manner. Here, he has employed all the recognized weapons of satire in an effective way.

.Elegy

The elegy is a form of poetry in which the poet or speaker expresses grief, sadness, or loss The elegy began as an ancient Greek metrical form and is traditionally written in response to the death of a person or group. Though similar in function, the elegy is distinct from the epitaph,ode, and eulogy: the epitaph is very brief; the ode solely exalts; and the eulogy is most often written in formal prose.

The elements of a traditional elegy mirror three stages of loss. First, there is alament, where the speaker expresses grief and sorrow, then praise and admiration of the idealized dead, and finally consolation and solace. These three stages can be seen in W. H. Auden's classic "In Memory of W. B. Yeats," written for the Irish master, which includes these stanzas:

*With the farming of a verse*
*Make a vineyard of the curse,*
*Sing of human unsuccess*
*In a rapture of distress;*

In the deserts of the heart
Let tl healing fountain start,

In the prison of his days
Teach the free man how to praise.

Other well-known elegies include “Fugue of Death” byPaul Celan, written for victims of the Holocaust, and “O Captain! My Captain!”byWalt Whitman, written for President Abraham Lincoln.

Many modern elegies have been written not out of a sense of personal grief, but rather a broad feeling of loss and metaphysical sadness. A famous example is the mournful series of ten poems in *Duino Elegies*, by German poetRainer Maria Rilke. The first poem begins:

*If I cried out who would hear me*
*up there among the*
*angelic orders?*
*And suppose one suddenly took me*
*to his heart*
*I would shrivel*

Other works that can be considered elegiac in the broader sense areJames Merrill’s monumental *The Changing Light at Sandover*,Robert Lowell’s “For the Union Dead,”Seamus Heaney’s *The Haw Lantern*, and the work ofCzeslaw Milosz, which often laments the modern cruelties he witnessed in Europe.

**From *A Poet's Glossary***

A poem of mortal loss and consolation. The word *elegy* derives from the Greek *élegos*, "funeral lament.” It was among the first forms of the ancients, though in Greek literature it refers to a specific verse form as well as the emotions conveyed by it. Any poem using the particular meter of the elegiac couplet or elegiac distich was termed an elegy. It was composed of a heroic or dactylic hexameter followed by a pentameter. Here are two lines fromHenry Wadsworth Longfellow’s “Elegiac Verse” (1882):

*So the Hexameter, rising and singing, with cadence sonorous, Falls; and in refluent rhythms back the Pentameter flows.*

There were elegies, chanted aloud and traditionally accompanied by the flute, on love (amatory complaints) and war (exhortatory martial epigrams) as well as death. But, as Peter Sacks puts it, “Behind this array of topics there may have lain an earlier, more exclusive association of the flute song’s elegiacs with the expression of grief.”

Unit-2

A Brief Chronology of Chaucer's Life and Times

1300 Dante's *Divine Comedy.*

1300 Birth of Guillaume de Machaut, French musician and poet (died 1377).

1304 Birth ofFrancis Petrarch(died 1374).

1313 Birth ofGiovanni Boccaccio(died 1375).

1321 Death ofDante Alighieri(born 1265).

1330 Birth ofJohn Gower(died 1408).

1335 Boccaccio's *Il Filostrato* (source of *Troilus*).

1336-38 Boccaccio's*IlFilocolo*(possible source of The Franklin's Tale).

1337 Hundred Years War begins (ends 1453).

1339 Boccaccio begins *Il Teseida delle Nozze d'Emilia* (source of The Knight's Tale).

1340-45 Birth of Chaucer.

1346 Birth of Eustache Deschamps, French poet (died c. 1406).

1346 English victory at Crecy; see Jean Froissart on theHundred Years War (1337-1453).

1348-50 The Black Death; see the chilling description of the Plag Boccaccio'sDecameron, the introduction to the First Day.

1349-51 Boccaccio's*Decameron*written.

1356 English victory at Poitiers; see Jean Froissart, on theHundred Years War (13371453).

1357 Chaucer is a page in the household of the Countess of Ulster.

1359-60 Chaucer serves in thewar in France.

1360 Chaucer, captured by the French, isransomed (for 16 pounds).

1360 Peace with France, Treaty of Bretigny (lull in Hundred Years War; resumes in 1369).

1361-62 Severe recurrence of the Plague.

1360s Langland's*Piers Plowman*(The "A text").

1361-67 Jean Froissart, French poet and chronicler (c. 1337-1404) serves in the household of Queen Philippa.

1366 Chaucer marries Philippa Roet, a lady-in-waiting in the Queen's household.

1366 Chaucer travels to Spain.

1366 Death of John Chaucer, Chaucer's father.

1367 Birth of Chaucer's son, Thomas.

1367 Chaucer serves as a*valettus*and later as asquirein the court of Edward III; granted a payment of 20 marks per annum for life.

1368 Chaucer travels to the continent (France probably) on "the King's service."

1368 Birth of Thomas Hoccleve (died 1450), who wrote poems as a "disciple" of Chaucer.

1368-72 Chaucer writes "Fragment A" of the *Romaunt of the Rose*, *The Book of the Duchess*, probably a good many lyrics in French and English, now lost, and such lyrics as The Complaint unto Pity and The Complaint to His Lady.

1369 Chaucer serves with John of Gaunt's army in France.

1370 Birth ofJohn Lydgate, admirer and imitator of Chaucer (died 1450).

1370 Chaucer again serves with the army in France.

1372 Chaucer's wife Philippa in the household of John of Gaunt's wife.

1372 Chaucer travels to Italy (Genoa and Florence) on a diplomatic mission.

1374 Death of Petrarch.

1374 Chaucer is granted a gallon pitcher of wine daily for life.

1374 Chaucer is appointed controller of the customs; granted a lease on adwelling over Aldgate.

1375 Death of Boccaccio.

1375 Chaucer and Otho de Graunson (French knight and poet on whose poems Chaucer drew for his "Complaint of Venus") both receive grants from John of Gaunt.

1376-77 Several trips to France, negotiating for peace and the marriage of Richard.

1377 Edward III died; Richard II becomes king.

1377 Pope Gregory XI condemns doctrines ofJohn Wycliffe(1335/38-1384); Lollard movement grows.

1378 The "Great Schism" -- rival Popes in Rome (Urban) and Avignon (Clement); seeDeliberations of the University of Paris. The schism ends 1409.

1378 Chaucer travels to Italy (Milan) on diplomatic mission.

1378 John Gower and Richard Forester have Chaucer's power of attorney while he travels abroad. late 1370s Chaucer writes *Saint Cecelia* (possibly later); *The House of Fame*, *Anelida* and *Arcite*.

1380 Cecily Chaumpaignesigns a document, releasing Chaucer from all actions "in the case of my rape" (*de raptu meo*).

1380 Birth of Chaucer's second son, Lewis.

1380 Chaucer writes *The Parliament of Fowls*.

1381 The Peasants' Revolt; see the accounts in*Gray'sScalacronica*and theAnonimalle Chronicle.

1381 Death of Chaucer's mother, Agnes Chaucer.

1382-86 Chaucer writes *Boece* and *Troilus and Criseyede*.

1382 Chaucer's controllorship of the customs is renewed, with permission to have a deputy.

1382 The Bible is translated into English (The "Wyclifite Bible"; a later versions is made in 1388).

1385 Chaucer is granted a permanent deputy in the customs.

1385 Eustache Deschamps sends Chaucer a poem of praise, hailing him as "great translator, noble Geoffrey Chaucer." SeeChaucer's Reputation.

1385-87 Chaucer writes "Palamoun and Arcite" (later used as The Knight's Tale); *The Legend of Good Women* (though some parts are probably earlier and the prologue was later revised).

1385-89 Chaucer serves as justice of peace for Kent.

1386 Chaucer gives up the house in Aldgate; resigns from customs.

1386 Chaucer serves as member of Parliament for Kent (where he now probably lives).

1386/87 (Perhaps earlier) Chaucer is praised as a poet of Love and Philosophy by Thomas Usk, a younger contemporary (1350-88), author of The Testament of Love.

1387-90 John Gower's*Confessio amantis*(first "published" 1390; later revised).

1387-92 Chaucer begins *The Canterbury Tales*.

1388 Some of King Richard II's closest supporters removed by the Lords Appellant; some (including Thomas Usk, an admirer and imitator of Chaucer) are executed.

1389 Chaucer is appointed clerk of the works at Westminster, Tower of London, and other royal estates.

1390 As clerk of the works, Chaucer has scaffolds built forjousts in Smithfield.

1390 Chaucer is robbed of horse, goods, 20 pounds, 6 shillings, 8 pence at Hacham, Surrey (perhaps robbed again a bit later).

1391-92 Chaucer writes *Treatise of the Astrolabe* (with additions 1393 and later).

1392-95 Chaucer writes most of *The Canterbury Tales*, including probably "The Marriage Group."

1394 King Richard II grants Chaucer an annuity of 20 pounds a year.

c. 1396 Chaucer writes "The Envoy to Bukton," in which the addressee is urged to read "The Wife of Bath."

1396-1400 Chaucer writes the latest of the Tales, including probably The Nun's Priest's Tale, The Canon's Yeoman's Tale (though part is probably earlier), the Parson's Tale, and several short poems, including the envoys to Scogan and Bukton and the "Complaint to His Purse."

1398 Chaucer is granted atunof wine a year.

1399 Richard II is deposed; Henry IV becomes king.

1399 Chaucer leases a tenement, for 53 years, in the garden of the Lady Chapel at Westminster Abbey.

1399 King Henry IV confirms, and adds to, Chaucer's royal annuities.

1400 "The Complaint of Chaucer to His Purse."

1400 Chaucer's death (on 25 October, according to tradition).

1. *The Book of the Duchess*.

We begin this pick of Chaucer’s best works with an early work from around 1370, when Chaucer was still probably only in his late twenties. Sometimes known by the alternative title *The Deth of Blaunche*, this poem is an example of the dream-vision, a popular genre in medieval poetry. It was written for John of Gaunt, the Duke of Lancaster, following the death of his wife Blanche, probably from the Black Death, in 1368.

The poem opens with a speaker, suffering from insomnia, announcing that he has lost all feeling because of his lack of sleep. Something is on his mind. After reading Ovid, he falls asleep (an experience many classically educated schoolchildren may readily identify with), and experiences the dream which makes up the main section of the poem.

2. ‘The Parliament of Fowls’.

   This is another early work, thought to date from around 1382. It has a curiouslink with the establishment of Valentine’s Dayas a romantic date in the calendar. The poem features a parliament, or assembly, of birds, which have gathered together in order to choose their mates.

3. *The House of Fame*.

   Although it’s nowhere near as long as *The Canterbury Tales*, *The House of Fame* is still a substantial work, in which the poet falls asleep and dreams he’s in a glass temple adorned with images of glorious and famous people from history (including the poets Ovid and Virgil). This prompts Chaucer to consider what fame actually is, and the relationship between poets and fame.

4. *Troilus and Criseyde*.

   After *The Canterbury Tales* (of which more below), this is Chaucer’s greatest achievement: a long narrative poem, written in rhyme royal stanzas, detailing the doomed love affair between the Trojan prince Troilus and the beautiful woman Cressida during the Trojan War.

   A number of scholars believe that this, rather than the next item on this list, is Chaucer’s best work, and it’s certainly a more polished, even, and complete work (well, he never completed the next one!). As with a number of the *Canterbury Tales*, Chaucer’s source for this story was the Italian writer Boccaccio, but Chaucer worked the tale of tragic love into great English poetry.

   Paragraph Writing: Students & Writers mostly look for some questions when coming to paragraph writing about any topic or thing or person. The questions raised by most of the students while thinking about writing a paragraph are Paragraph Writing Examples, What is the perfect paragraph format? How many steps involved to write a paragraph? How to write a good paragraph? How many sentences are included in a para? and many more like these.

   By keeping all these questions in our mind today we have come up with a new topic called “A Guide on Paragraph Writing”. With this guide, we’ll try to answer all these questions about paragraph writing. Paragraphs act as the main role in a student’s life. While writing any topic in an exam or competition needs paras to explain the concept in an understandable way for the readers.

   For grabbing the attention of readers, it’s compulsory to write a succinct paragraph by including all the elements. So, to make it easy and simple to understand by the students, let’s start learning more about paragraph writing skills by referring below modules.

   List of Various Categorized Effective Paragraph Writing Topics for Kids, Students, Children, and Competitive Exams.

   Need some examples on paragraph writing then this is the right place for kids and students who are really excited to learn paragraph skills. Here, we have listed a paragraph writing

topics on different events such as Paragraph On Environment, Paragraph On Animals like tiger, etc., Paragraph On Christmas, Diwali, Dusshera, and other festivals, Paragraph On Global Warming, save water, save trees, Paragraph On Child Labour, Paragraph On Sports, Paragraph On Health And Fitness, Paragraph On APJ Abdul Kalam, and many more on technology too. So, don't waste your time just practice one by one with the help of these topics & improve your skills of paragraph writing.

What is a Paragraph?

A series of sentences that are organized and coherent, and are all related to a single topic is called Paragraph. Breaking the large sentence essay or topic into smaller pieces in a wellstructured form is known as Paragraph. The lines that should include in a paragraph is at least three to five, not more. It includes topic sentences, supporting sentences as well as concluding sentences that refer to an overall structure, which is a group of sentences focusing on a single topic.

Paragraph writing is not just expressing your views about the topic in a group of sentences. It is all about structuring ideas in a clear format to make the reader fall in love with the topic and continue their studying till to an end of the topic. While writing paragraphs about any topic, it's more important to maintain the quality and flow of the paragraph than word count. Paragraphs are often thought of as a 'unit' of thought.

Therefore, start learning how to write a good paragraph and impress your audience with your experience about the topic. From this page, you will come to know how to write, what to focus while writing paragraphs in a format, type of paragraphs, and some of the topics on Paragraph writing.

Basic Paragraph Format to Write Effective Paragraphs on Single Topic

A paragraph explains one idea in detail and supports the expansion of an overall topic for the essay. Paragraph length will vary based on the purpose of the paragraph.

Parts of a Paragraph

The basic paragraph consists of three parts: a topic sentence, supporting details, and a concluding sentence. This basic paragraph format will help you to write and organize one paragraph and transition to the next.

Topic Sentence:

Often, the Topic sentence is the first sentence of a paragraph. Also, we can call an introduction sentence of a paragraph. It states the main idea of each paragraph and displays how the idea connects to the thesis or overall focus of the paper. All consequent points presented in the paragraphs must support the topic sentence.

Supporting Details

The supporting sentences explain more about the topic sentence by showing some facts, stats, or examples regarding the topic. It also includes the writer's experience & own

analysis and used to develop the topic sentence. The following are common origins of supporting details:

Expert Opinion

Facts and Statistics

Personal Experiences

Others' Experiences

Brief Stories

Research Studies

Your Own Analysis

Interviews

Concluding SentenceIt is the end of the paragraph which is also known as final statement about the topic. It ties all ideas given in the paragraph and emphasizes the main idea one last time. In the concluding sentence, the writer usually restates their topic sentence or summarizes the main points of the paragraph.

Types of Paragraph

Having knowledge about what are the type of paragraphs is one of the most essential aspects while writing a paragraph. So, we thought of explaining a bit about paragraph writing types is a must. Okay, let's start about it.

There are four types of paragraphs that you need to know about: descriptive, narrative, expository, and persuasive. If you have a quick search on the web then you may found other types too but to make your paragraph simple and succinct, it's a good idea to study just these four.

1. Descriptive Type of Paragraph: This paragraph type describes the topic and displays the reader what's the subject included in it. The terms selected in the description type usually appeal to the five senses of touch, smell, sight, sound, and taste. This type of paragraph can be more artistic and may vary from grammatical standards.

2. Narrative Type of Paragraph: In simple words, this type of paragraph narrates a story that includes a sequence of topic sentences like a clear start, middle of the topic, an end to the paragraph.

3. Expository Type of Paragraph: It defines something or gives instruction. It may also explain a process and influence the reader step by step via a form of the method. This Expository Para usually needs research, but also it's possible to rely on the writer's own knowledge and experience.

4. Persuasive Type of Paragraph: This kind of paragraph seeks to make the audience to admit a writer's point of view or know his/her position. Persuasive paragraphs are often

used by the teachers because it is beneficial when building an argument. Also, it makes a writer to research and collects some facts on the topic.

How to Write a Perfect Paragraph? Three Simple Steps to Compose a Good Paragraph

Determining how to write a good paragraph can be challenging as it demands knowing how to write a great topic sentence, using supporting details and transitional words, including finding a strong concluding sentence. In a novel or story, writing a paragraph implies knowing which ideas work mutually and where a new paragraph should start.

Prior knowledge on How to write a paragraph helps students to put their thoughts collectively in a better way and attract readers' attention towards the topic. Hence, improve your skills in paragraph writing by practicing various topics using the below mentioned important elements of a paragraph.

1. Topic Sentence

What is the topic sentence? The topic sentence is the first sentence in a paragraph.

What does it do? It introduces the main idea of the paragraph.

How do I write one? Summarize the main idea of your paragraph. Make clear what your Paragraph will be about.

2. Supporting Details

What are the supporting sentences? They come after the topic sentence, making up the body of a paragraph.

What do they do? They give details to develop and support the main idea of the paragraph.

How do I write them? You should give supporting facts, details, and examples

3. Closing Sentence

What is the closing sentence? The closing sentence is the last sentence in a paragraph.

What does it do? It restates the main idea of your paragraph.

How do I write one?Restate the main idea of the paragraph using different words.

If you follow these three elements properly while writing any paragraphs then your paragraph will be more attractive, interesting to the readers. So, to practice your paragraph writing skills we have compiled a list of paragraph writing topics on various categories like special events, technology, science, famous & inspiring legends, etc. You can even directly took our example to frame your own paragraph on the selected topic. Once, have a look at the below list of Paragraph writing topics and become an expert in writing new paragraphs on the topic.

Some Useful Transition Words to write a good Paragraph

To show addition: again, and, also, besides, equally important, first (second, etc.), further, furthermore, in addition, in the first place, moreover, next, too

To give examples: for example, for instance, in fact, specifically, that is, to illustrate

To compare: also, in the same manner, likewise, similarly

To contrast: although, and yet, at the same time, but, despite, even though, however, in contrast, in spite of, nevertheless, on the contrary, on the other hand, still, though, yet

To summarize or conclude: all in all, in conclusion, in other words, in short, in summary, on the whole, that is, therefore, to sum up

To show time: after, afterward, as, as long as, as soon as, at last, before, during, earlier, finally, formerly, immediately, later, meanwhile, next, since, shortly, subsequently, then, thereafter, until, when, while

To show place or direction: above, below, beyond, close, elsewhere, farther on, here, nearby, opposite, to the left (north, etc.)

To indicate a logical relationship: accordingly, as a result, because, consequently, for this reason, hence, if, otherwise, since, so, then, therefore, thus

FAQs on Paragraph Writing

1. What is Paragraph Writing?

A Paragraph is a self-contained unit of a conversation in writing dealing with a particular point or idea or topic. A paragraph composed of one or more sentences. Though not required by the syntax of any language, paragraphs are normally an anticipated part of formal writing, used to form longer prose. It has a topic sentence and supporting sentences that all associate nearly to the topic sentence. A good paragraph writing makes you win in any competition because of a neat & succinct explanation about the topic. Know more about writing a paragraph from our page.

2. What is the abbreviation for paragraphs in APA?

Standard American Psychological Association (APA) Abbreviation for Paragraph(s) is Para(s). Usually, there are two different “Paragraph” abbreviations. They are ‘Par, Para’.

3. How many types of paragraphs?

Paragraphs are mainly written in 4 types. The type of paragraphs are as follows:

Narrative Paragraph,

Descriptive Paragraph,

Expository Paragraph, and

Persuasive Paragraph

4. What are the 5 basic elements of a paragraph?

   Want to write a good paragraph about the selected topic? Then, you should write a paragraph with these 5 elements of a paragraph. Those elements are Unity, Coherence, A Topic Sentence, and Adequate Development.

5. How many sentences in a paragraph have?

   Most of the students determine paragraphs concerning length. A paragraph is a group of at least three to five sentences not more than that. Indeed, the unity and coherence of thoughts among sentences are what organizes a paragraph.

6. How do you write a good paragraph?

   If you want to compose a good paragraph, you must incorporate three main components. They are a topic sentence, supporting sentences and a concluding sentence. If you compose your paragraph in a basic format by following all the guidelines provided by APA along with these three elements then your paragraph will be definitely perfect among others.

7. How many lines is a paragraph?

   Paragraphs are usually five to eight lines in length, but often they can be shorter or longer based on the writer's explanation.

8. What is Paragraph Symbol?

   A symbol (usually ¶) utilized in a printed text to mark a new paragraph or as a reference mark is a paragraph symbol or paragraph mark.

Summary

Provided Paragraph Writing information like what is a para/, how to write a perfect paragraph about the topic, types of paragraphs, paragraph format, etc will benefits you at any time in your life while writing paragraphs on any topic. So, we hope you feel this article is worthwhile. If yes, please share it with your friends and help them to improve their paragraph writing skills. Also, kids can grab more than enough details about the Pargarph writing from this page. Thus, bookmark our site *Aplustopper.com* and get more information on common topics that are crucial like this.

English Poetry: An Introduction

Lesson (b) : Poetry of the Romantic Revival deism isa complex movement, n synthesis of many ideas, English Romanticiyy like Romantiism Ek h
hermovenent, 1 influenced by many European movements, The German Romanticism y pany other the French Romanticism were the two influences that made an adequate Imad on och

**Romanticism as amovement,**

Under the influence of Rossoau, Romanticism came to be described us return 10 nature

Some have attached great importance to the clement of wonder in the Romantic Movemen,

Imagination, BS, wonder, and a sense of nostalgia for the past were some of the qualities tha governed Romanticism as a movement. Imagination that could impart a sense of the natural to the supematural or a sense of the supernatural to the natural, constituted a very important constituent of

Romanticism as a movement,

Mother Nature was the prime inspiration to all the poets of this School. Even from childhood Weare exposed to nature. It is nature that guides our footsteps as young children very much likes mother. No wonder the writers of this school considered nature their teacher. The philosophy of Rosseau and the Philosophy of Hegel and Kant made an indelible impact on English Romanticism. Being liberd thinker, Ro Eo upheld the dignity of man and the ability of nature in inspiring him. The insintiond! nature mou|de Wo rdsworth into apoetand the love of human freedom and dignity inspired writer wy relieved the! ll the Objeeys = hcamate. All the Romantics were pantheists. They belie nature eons i nt toned 11 Sined a spark of divinity, It was transcendentalism that believed universe dod mare ss beingone ofthe manifesons Or of the Lord. Thus the Germ an qranscendentalist philosophy the universe was a scented handkerchief R very ob) ect of hs Svalists »d was thete ne was probably behind the belief of the Romantic Revivalists that Go nafure.
The memories of childhood, among other things, formed a major part of the foundations of who may be said tobe a leader of the writers of Romantic imagination as its integral part. Wordswo this school, made the well-known observation that the child is father of the man. In his 'Prelude', Wordsworth speaks of the influences that he had gone through his childhood and which were later to influence his thinking and imagination as a poet. 'Fair seed-time had my soul and I grew up both by beauty and by fear alike'. Wordsworth calls the mind of man, "my haunt, and the main reason of my song". Even the objects of nature haunt the poet, "The roaring cataract haunted me like the passion", he says elsewhere. Watson argues that we can find romanticism through the individual perceptions and visions of Romantic writers rather than finding them by using the concept of Romanticism. Along with new political and social ideas, new poetical ideas came into existence. The poetry of Wordsworth was thus inspired by his belief and expectations of the French revolution. It is no wonder when his expectations failed; his poetry came to be characterized with disillusionment.

The major poets of the romantic revival were Wordsworth, Coleridge, Blake, Keats, Shelley

and Byron. Coleridge classified imagination into primary and secondary. The primary imagination is

held to be a living power and a reflection of the eternal while a secondary imagination is conscious will.

Wordsworth spoke about the spontaneous and powerful emotion in an overflow as constituting the fabric of true poetry. Considering the poet as a man speaking to men, Wordsworth takes his inspiration from a solitary reaper or the dance of daffodils. In his childhood Wordsworth was influenced by the guidance of nature, the wisdom and spirit of

universe that guided the growth of his mind. The poet does rightly describe his! The Prelude' as the growth of a poets mind. While the beauty of nature
Jade him fear wrong actions like theft, for example, in. italson : enired him, 108 i ety :inspired nature opened up the possibilities of permanence reflected in the song of, leals,For Kea its on the Grecian urn, Keats presents an evolutionary though pattem ry, ale or the port!nighting!from 'field the desired results as the bird belongs to a different order and rejects the anence do noingale' to the 'Ode to Autumn'. In the Nightingale ode the Poet's attempys, Nighting perm identification. The urn on the other hand gives an opportunity for Permanence p, the its at ide poet's attemp 5 vth of the living principle is not shown on the urn as time is merely frozen op it A organic - attempted in the melancholy ode. The resolution is arrived atin the 'Ode to Autump compro. The romantic poets have always Se their love of nature. In his 'Tintern Abbey'

Wordsworth describes nature as the anchor of his thoughts, the nurse, the guide, the guardian of his

heart and the soul of his moral being. Byron, celebrating his love of nature, SAE that to him the high

untains are a feeling. The poet observes that he cannot hate anything in nature as his sou] can mingle mo 3

with the sky, the peak, and the stars ainong other objects of nature.

The romantics were so closely connected with nature that they could use landscape asa symbol. The Romantics were thus associated with man in relation to nature, man in relation to man and man in relation to God. The poets took mountains waves and skies as a part of the soul. Blake for

instance celebrates the dya] aspect of God in his ability to create the merciful as well as the cruel beings of nature, the lamb and the tiger at once, Books for further reading:

CH Herford; The Age of Wordsworth

**discussion**

John Donne was born in 1572. Ata tender age of four years, Donne lost his father. After his mother's remarriage, he was looked after by his stepfather. Donne matriculated in 1584. Later he wanted to take a Degree in Law. Meanwhile, his mother married a third time. Donne started his career as a writer, with his "Songs and satires", Satires and Elegies. In his poems, he advocated the need for assimilation and integration ina world governed by disunity and disintegration.

In 1598, Donne joined as secretary to Sir Thomas Egerton and soon he fell in love with Ann More, his daughter. They had to marry secretly. An angry father-in-law dismissed Donne from his job and got his son-in-law imprisoned (John Donne, Anne Donne, undone). With some difficulty, Donne finally managed a reconciliation. -But enough damage was done by that time. Donne's ambitions fora glorious career were seriously checked. So he had to go in search of patronage from others. Sir Robert Drury came to his rescue. When Drury's daughter died at a young age, Donne wrote the elegy, The

First Anniversarie in honour of her memory, with the clear intention of pleasing his patron. Having made a compromise with the Church of England, Donne could occupy high posts. He passed away in 1613.

Although Donne was born an Elizabethan, he came to be regarded as a modern writer, Evena great writer like Ben Joson saluted him as being “the first poetin the world” for some things, as Donne thought much ahead of his times in terms of craftsmanship. Donne Was born into an orthodox Catholic family, but was forced in his later life to be converted into the Church of England, which was distinctly Protestant. The poet was forced to do this as he realized that if he continued to be a Cathol ic, he would

Not receive any kind of royal patronage. Thus Donne sacrificed virtue to convenience. The dilemma created tension in the mind of Donne, a tension which is often reflected in his poetry. The poet appeals

be truly religious, be they Catholic or Protestant. Like Bacon, he also seems to behn of unity within the Christian religion.

arguing 11

Cae’ maternal grandfather, John Heywood, was a great scholar. Thus the poet inherited 4 amount of poetic taste and scholarship from his ancestors. He was also an avid reader of Ovid's

certain poems, in particular, those on love. Donne was a learned man and was fully aware of the literary

traditions of Europe. His poetry was deeply influenced by Gongora in Spain, Marini in Italy, Lyly in

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Donne as a love poet -

Like other poems of Donne, Donne's love poems also represent a complex frame. His

personal experiences, religious views, and deviations from accepted poetic conventions of his time are all mixed up in his poetry. Donne’s flirtations with women are often cited as being a solid basis of his

love poetry, as his love poetry is coloured with a sensual and uninhibited celebration, as in the following, for instance:

Women are like the Arts, forc’d unto none.

Open to all searchers, unprized, if unknown.

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Helen Gardner has spoken of Donne as akind of “early D.H.Lawrence™, boldly reflecting what

she calls it, “a sexual ethic”.

Love poetry of the Elizabethan times, followed the conventions established by the Italian sonne-

teer Petrarch. While Petrarch has concentrated more on love as a physical passion, Donne cleverly

raises it to the spiritual level. In poems like ‘The Extasie’," A Valediction: forbidding Mouming', and

“The Canonization”, love is presented as spiritual and even, divine, Exaggeration or Hyperbole as

employed by Petrarch, is made use of by Donne also. But the intellectual touch that Donne gives is

conspicuous by its absence in Petrarch. Donne appears to be a sensual writer and a priest of spiritual bonds. by tums. * The Canonization” | : ;

5b) . onization’ 15 a good love poetry. T ave § - good example of Donne's love poetry. Love js considered to
be a kind of religion, and the lovers, saints. The love poems of Donne wander between the sensual and

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Model Questions

1 : Write anote on Donne as a Metaphysical poet 2. How does Donne employ the metaphysical conceit?
3.consider donne as a poet of love?

**2. John Donne**

Lesson (a) : Introduction and Summary

Lesson (b) : Topics for discussion

John Donne was bom fn 1572. Ata tender age of four years, Donne lost his father. After his mother's remarriage, he was looked after by his stepfather. Donne matriculated in 1584. Later he wanted to take a Degree in Law. Meanwhile, his mother married a third time. Donne started his career asa writer, with his "Songs and satires", Satires and Elegies. In his poems, he advocated the need for assimilation and integration in a world govemed by disunity and disintegration.

In 1598, Donne joined as secretary to Sir Thomas Egerton and soon he fell in love with Ann

More, his daughter. They had to marry secretly. An angry father-in-law dismissed Donne from his job

and got his son-in-law imprisoned (John Donne, Anne Donne, undone). With some difficulty, Donne

finally managed a reconciliation. But enough damage was done by that time. Donne's ambitions fora

glorious career were seriously checked. So he had to go in search of patronage from others. Sir Robert

Drury came to his rescue. When Drury's daughter died at a young age, Donne wrote the elegy, The

First Anniversarie in honour of her memory, with the clear intention of pleasing his patron,

Having made a compromise with the Church of England, Donne could occupy high posts. He passed away in 1613.Although Donne was born an Elizabethan, he came to be regarded as a modem writer. Evena

great writer like Ben Joson saluted fo as being "the first poet in the world" for some things, as Donne

thought much ahead of his times in terms of craftsmanship. Donne was born into an orthodox Catholic

family, but was forced in his later life to be converted into the Church of England, which was distinctly

Protestant. The poet was forced to do this as he realized that if he continued to be a Catholic, he would

not receive any kind of royal patronage. Thus Donne sacrificed virtue to convenience. The dilemma

created tension in the mind of Donne, & tension which is often reflected in his poetry. The poet appeals

to the people to be ealy religious, be they Catholic or Protestant. Like Bacon, he also seems to be.

arguing in fave ir of unity within the Christian religion. :

Donne's maternal grandfather, John Heywood, was a great scholar. Thus the poet inherited a certain amount of poetic taste and scholarship from his ancestors. He was also an avid reader of Ovid's poems, in particular, those on love. Donne was a learned man and was fully aware of the literary

Fecbre of Europe. His poetry was deeply influenced by Gongora in Spain, Marini in Italy, Lyly a

England and even some F rench writers. Spenser and Wyatt are said to be the other important influ-

ences on Donne. Donne was also under the influence of Elizabethan love poetry. Both courtly love with

mere physical attractions and Platonic love related to the divine and spiritual aspects of love found a

place in his poetry. His poetry successfully accommodated these opposing strains of love. - A Critical summary

The Sunne Rising

The poem starts with lines that have become justly famous. The poet is angry, with the sun for behaving like a fool. The sun is both busy and old. He does not have even courtesy and peeps in

through windows and curtains, He has no business to disturb lovers. The sun may command seasons in

nature, but the nature of lovers is much different from nature outside, nature as we understand it.
|

Nature's seasons cannot therefore be the lover's seasons. Lovers are not guided by reasons or sea-

sons. The suns ike 5 wretched schoolmaster, who is fit only to discipline school children: He asks the sunto go and tell the Sie to get ready to join the king in his sports like hunting. Lovers are not

Bovemedby the laws that govern other people. They are a ¢lass apart. They are not guided or directed by seasons or 1

Places. Time does not bother them. Hours, days, and evenamonths do not matter to the lovers,The sun may be k i
Y be proud that he has bright rays, but the lover can ¢lgse their eyes and avoid the brightnes ; htness of the sun. The lover keep pi €¥es open only, to see the beauty.of the beloved all the ime: His beloved's eyes, boasts the lover, are brighter than the sun's rays. The sun himself may be blinded bry

the brightness of his beloved's eyes. So he asks the sun to leave them for the present and return the next

day to report whether the Eastand the West Indies with their spices and gold are stil] there, if only he manages to escape from being blinded by the luster of his beloved's eyes. In a daring exaggeration, 2

Petrarchan hyperbole, Donne tells the sun that he may not find them anywhere, as they haveall been

ghsorbed into the lover's bed. The entire world is now in the form of his beloved and being her lover,

* he is the Prince Supreme, the ruler of all the worlds,

To the lover, his beloved is the only world. To have her is to have all the wealth in the world. To him, this is the only glory. All else is nothing. The lover feels tha for ages, the sun is overworked and he

isnow badly in need of rest. To warm the lovers' room is equal to warming the world, says the lover,

and asks the sun to warm their room alone. This would give the sun, the much-needed rest. Besides, as the lovers' world is the only world worth considering, the sun will not be failing in his duty. From now

on, the lovers' bedroom shall be the center of the sun's activities, and as the lovers" world is the only world, the sim has to limit his movements to the four walls of the lovers' bedroom only.

Cenontzation |

Declaring someone as a saint as per the established practices of the church is called canoniza-

tion. In the poem of Donne however, we do not find any such saints. To the poet, love is like a religion, and the lovers are like saints.

2 The lover in the poem asks the audience to keep their mouth shut and allow him to carry on

with love to his beloved. People might mistake love for a disease. It might be like paralysis. Let it be.

But he is unmoved. In fortune or misfortune, he will continue to love. Weakness due to old age may

look like the basis of his passion. But he is not like others who might wish to obtain wealth or gain

knowledge. Others may obtal wealth or power with the help of royal favour. Let them do what they like. The lover only wants to be left alone to continue his activities as a lover.

The lover emphatically declares that his activities do not trouble others. So. he must be lefi to

himself. His tears cannot stop ships, nor can they flood someone's lands. Seasons continue to be the

same. The activities of professionals like soldiers and lawyers can go on unchecked. This is all the more the reason why they should be allowed to carry on with their love, without any interruption.

Love has united the lovers. So the lovers do not object to being called by any name. They are

consumed by the same passion like flies burnt by the same flaming candle. They live and dic together.

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like the dove. They are one like Phoenix. the mythical bird. There can be one and only one Phoenix at any time, according to the myth. The lovers are $50 ong! now that they are united and cannot be

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lovers are capable of rebirth as love not only consumes, but also resurrects or confers another birth,

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legendary. Even otherwise, lovers make themselves fit objects for immortal poetry. While chronicles

may not be able to Es their names, as there is nothing historical about them, sonnets can sing their

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ashes. Love will certainly confer sainthood on both the beloved and her lover.

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can see the reflection of the cities and nations of the world. Hence, the poet prays to God that their love may be recognized as holy and worthy of being followed by the others

AA Valediction : Forbidding Mourning

The virtuous face death, bravely. Their souls go away from them, gently, as they do not make 8

fuss about the natural event of death, Their friends are worried about their death and wish them a longest

life. God wills otherwise. The poet tells his darling that they should. when time comes, depart from the world. quietly. Love is sacred, 'Noisy sorrow in floods of tears and storm of sighs would only degrade it.

When the earth trembles in an earthquake, people are frightened. Planets move faster, but people

are not afraid, because they do not feel their impact. Like the movement of the earth around thespheres, the movement of the lovers also is harmless,

Bad lovers base their estimate on mere physical relationships. So the physical absence of one of

them may not be tolerated by the other. True love, they do not know, is beyond these considerations and constraints.

Even lovers do not know the true nature of love. It is spiritual and eyes. ears, lips, hands and other physical faculties do not count, as the nature of love is truly mysterious.
They are made one by love. His absence cannot reduce their love. On the other hand, his moving away will only enlarge the area of operation or sphere of influence. Don't we see gold when it is beaten, covers a larger area?

In a daring metaphor, the poet compares the souls of lovers to a pair of compasses. Can one of them move alone? We know the answer isa 'no'.
Observe the compass. It is fixed at the center. Isnt it? One foot moves. but when it completes its round, it will unite with the other. The lover's movement away from the beloved is just like this.
For making a circle, you nced one foot fixed, while the other may move. The beloved's solid faith is like the fixed foot. The strength of her faith ensures the success of her lover's movements.

Lesson (b) : Metaphysical Conceit

The word *Conceit" came to be used with a variety of meanings. Until the end of the sixteenth

» century, it was used in the sense of 'thought', anda witty thought. Later, it came to mean a concept of idea. It was in effect, like the Italian "concetto' and the Spanish 'concepto', that led to conceptismo and

concettismo. Metaphor, according to Aristotle, is capable of discovering 'similarity in dissimilars or

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By the middle of the seventeenth century, conceits came to be disregarded. Dryden, for

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Donne as a Metaphysical Poet

Donne is recognized as a Metaphysical poet. His poetry is full of far-fetched comparisons. In

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Donne as a love poet .

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Suggested Reading

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BE Model Questions

I. Write a note on Donne as a Metaphysical poet.

2. How does Donne employ the metaphysical conceit?

3. Consider Donne as a poet of love? 4. Wordsworth
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Lesson (b) : A Critical appreciation of the poems with model questions and Suggested

Reading

Lesson (a):

William Wordsworth was bog at Cockermouth in 1770. Dorothy his sister, was born in 1771,a

year later. As a young boy, Wordsworth was admitted in Hawkshead Grammar School. His mother passed away in 1778, and his father in 1783. Wordsworth started his poetic career with 'Lines written as a school exercise at Hawkshead' in 1785 and 'The Vale of Esthwaite' a little later. "Sonnet on seeing

Miss Helena Maria' was his first ever publication in 1787.In 1787, Wordsworth wanted to pursue his higher education by joining St.John's College, Cambridge. The poet went for a walking tour of France

in 1790.Deeply moved by the French revolution, he went there againin1791. In 1 795 he came into contact with three important persons who were destined to make a profound impact on his life.

'The Lyrical Ballads', a landmark in the literary career of Wordsworth, was published in 1798.

Soon, the poet planned a journey to Germany. He was accompanied by his dear sister Dorothy and his friend Coleridge. Wordsworth's poetic plans fora major poem found their beginnings in the

well-known poem "The Prelude' composed during this time. In 1800,the poet in collaboration with

Coleridge, succeeded i in publishing a Ed edition of 'The Lyrical Ballads'. In 1802, Wordsworth married Mary Hutchinson. A son was born to them the very next year. He was named John. 'The a long time in the making cameto be pase; 1 807 was a testing time for the poet as his
Prelude' which was for published finally in the year 1805.During1806 and 1810.events oh some significance cam criticism. 1810 was worse as in that year a serious rift

work was subjected to serious and adveoccurred between him and his great collaborator Coleridge. The differences were of a serious andANTS Batley % ANE oy YF WHO of Ie]
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sting pate. 10 this academe obwas added an unbearable personal sorrow, the death of his children

Pharma and Cathenne

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Wordsworth published the "Excwsion™in 1814, The poem evoked a remarkably hostile response fom erties, The test adition of Wordswortl's Collected Poems was published in 1815.Soon

other editions followed it in quick succession in 1827,1832,and 183 6. Wordsworth suffered a great

personal loss in the form of his friend Coleridge's depth in 1834, After the death of Robert Southey in

1843. the mantle of the poet laureate fell on Wordsworth, The world of letters suffered a great loss in the form of Wordsworth's death in 1850. The poet's wife had the honour of publishing ‘The Prelude’, posthumous,

A Summary of the poems:

Tintern Abbey

“Tintern Abbey" was included in The Lyrical Ballads. The poem was composed in 1798.At that time Wordsworth was on a walking tour to the Wye Valley. He was accompanied by his sister Dorothy.

Tintern Abbey was an imposing Abbey of the twelfth century. But Wordsworth happened to visit the

Wye valley much earlier in 1793. Passages in the poem recall memories of the poet’s earlier visit. The

poet values the memories of the country landscape. He wants us to know that such memories continue to inspire him.

The poem successfully brings before us the philosophy of nature as it evolves over the years in

Wordsworth’s poetry. As a young boy, Wordsworth could only feel the coarse pleasures of nature. In

youth, he was fascinated by the forms of nature. But only ata later stage. he could sense the harmony

man and nature that makes him feel the bliss of elevated thoughts. The poem also serves asan acknowledgement of his sister Dorothy's inspiration that helped his wits to become sharp and hig awareness of nature, deeper.
The poe opens witha recollection of the poet's experiences. five years before when he Vi®

the abbey and its surroundings. The same sound made by the same waters thrills him with their memory.

The scene makes him even more recluse, The quietness of the scene seems only to be strengthened by

the quiet sky. It is not yet the Proper season for fruits to ripen and the poet takes rest under a sycamore

tree. Once again he notices the hedgerows and their wild growth. Occasional emissions of smoke from the trees confirm the presence of some gypsies, ‘vagrant dwellers’ as the poet calls them or a hermit

-who might be sitting near a fire in some remote corner of the woods.

These beautiful forms of nature have been with the poet as deep impressions of nature. His long

absence from them has not blunted his sensibility to the beauties of nature. On the other hand they did

remain with him even while he was away and even while he was dwelling in the din and bustle of towns

and cities, at a considerable distance from the lap of nature. The impressions of nature served only to

offer the much-needed relief when he was tormented by weariness. They acted = Sweet sensations

deeply embedded in his heart and have merged with his nature. Part of the long-forgotten pleasure of

nature's impressions undergoes a revival. These impressions have a deep and lasting impression ona man's life, for his good.

In addition, the impressions of nature stored in his memory, help the poet in yet another important

lotion These impressions gift him with a blessed shidod, a mood in which the poet is gifted with a

sublime revelation. The mystery of nature with its understandable components seems to open its secrets

more easily than he might have imagined. He is gifted with a quiet, tranquil and serene mood.

Itis a state

beyond mere physical impulses. The forms of nature and their everlasting impressions on the poet are

such that they tend to suspend all physical action associated with the body, the mere physical pleasure.

They help in elevating the poetintoa living soul. They also help the poet and anyone for that matter, to

Do

look deep into the nature of things, a perception: that would not have been possible but for the unmistakable influence of the impressions of the 'beantrSboms" in naire.

This in belief as the poet has taken inspiration from these impressions whenever he

required it. The rural scenario of the Wye inspired him again and again in the hour of need. The poet

gratefully acknowledges the same. Thoughts and impressions that are likely to be forgotten overalong

period of time, start coming back again to him with a renewed vigour all their own. They have not only

an impact on his present response, but are likely to influence his thoughts and sensations for the future.

The poet knows that he may not be the same man that wandered aimlessly over the rocks and cliffs at one point of time like a frightened and innocent deer without much sense of direction. The poet

confesses that nature is everything-all in all to him. At one time objects of nature haunted every part of

his being. The mountains, the woods and the waterfalls had a passionate and inseparable appeal to him.

A mere aural or visual impression of nature's sights and objects was enough to inspire him. The poet is now a better soul. The spirit of nature and the spirit of man which were separate in
him earlier as distinct identities, have now come to be blended in him as an improvement over his former

experiences. In his youth, he was thoughtless, but now he understands the silent music of human

impulses. Greatand sublime thoughts disturb him now. A sublime and divine sense of objects influences

and infuses his thoughts. The divine that dwells in all the objects of nature. is the motion and spirit that

moves him into action. The poet therefore continues to be a lover of all objects in nature as they have a

spark of the divine in them. The poet perceives and visualizes in nature what he describes it as the

finguage of the sense, a firm support to his noblest and purest thoughts. Nature his teacher, serves also

as his guide, the guardian of his heart and the very soul of his moral existence. Wordsworth also seems

to hint at the presence of Dorothy his sister who isin no mean measure, responsible for his development.
Upon the banks of river Wye, the thoughts of Dorothy. inspire him. The memory of his sister and the reminiscences of his companionship with his sister continue to inspire him as he firmly believes that

nature never betrayed Dorothy. The pure soul of Dorothy allowed her to travel from joy 10 joy.
Her

Was B Serene soul, full of charm and noble thoughts. Her soul remains unaffected by pronouncements, selfish judgment and Jealousy of men. In her presence, people enjoy the glory of cheerful faith.

The poet wishes that the moonlight might shine on his sister Dorothy in her solitary walk. The

misty mountain winds may be allowed to blow against her. These wild pleasures of nature to which she

might have been exposed at the outset would in later years be transformed into sober pleasures as her

responses might be more mature by then. The mind of Dorothy mi ght come to inhabit all lovely forms,

all sweet sounds, all kinds of music and harmony that nature might be able to provide her with. If solitude, fear, pain or grief were to trouble her, the thoughts of a brother's friendship and companionship might serve as a healing touch just as at other times her presence and memory helped the poet to tide over moments of crisis.
The poet believes and firmly too that even if he were to be physically distant and away from her,

she might not forget him or the memories of their having stood together on the banks of the stream,

years ago. She might not have been with him at the same place physically, but it is therefore even more

the reason that he continues to be an ardent worshipper of nature. He continues to be a servant of nature, probably with a greater zeal than ever before.
The poet closes his — with the remark that with or without the physical presence of his sister

now, the woods and cliffs and thé green landscape there continue to hold the same fascination for him

both for their sake and also for the strong, unf orgettable and sweet reminiscences of his sister's visit to

the ER with his own self.

Ode on Intimations of Immortality

Ode on Intimations of Immortality' from the 'Recollections of Early Childhood' is a poemin tune with Wordsworth's theory of emotions recollected in tranquility as the basis of all true poetry. The poet

firmly believed that the seeds of adulthood arc sown early in life, in childhood itself. Thus the poet

makes the seemingly paradoxical but in reality a meaningful statement in ‘the child is father of the man’.

What one is to become as a man in later life is indicated by one’s childhood. Childhood and adulthood

are inevitably linked up in a natural sequence as one phase of life runs naturally into the other phase,

As an adult however, Wordsworth claims, he seems to have lost the sense of wonder that

characterized his childhood, When he Was young every object of nature seemed to be clothed in
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divine aura. Every common sight including meadows, groves, streains, and everything about the earth

seemed to be glorious to his eye as a child. Surprisingly the poet is no lbriEanable to see or perceive the same kind of charm in those very objects that attracted him as a child.

Objects of nature did not lose their beauty. But their beauty does not seem to be anything

“extraordinary at all, now. A rainbow that appears occasionally in the sky, a lovely rose, the moon with

its attractive appearance, the glow of lakes and the radiance of the sunshine continue to be there as they

used to be there, earlier. But somehow the poet feels they do not exude the same charm that they used to, in the earlier phase of his life. Nor is he in a position to explain why such a thing happens. The good cheer of the earth with its singing birds and the bleating lambs does not seem to delight him as it used to do earlier. On the other hand while the objects of nature were full of joy he was not

only not able to share their joy but was greeted with intimations of grief. The poet does not like his grief to overcome him or spoil the joy that the season offers and has in store for him and his likes. He therefore calls upon echoes, winds and shepherd boys to celebrate their joy so that his grief may not spoil the good cheer of the season around.

The poet desperately tries to cheer himself up. He tries to share the divine innocence and the consequent bliss that the living objects in nature enjoy. The whole of nature seems to be celebrating a festival and the poet desires to throw his heart and soul into it The poet bemoans that it is an evil day as he is unable to share the joys of nature around, for some inexplicable reason. The whole of the earth rejoices in decking herself. Charming children are busy gathering flowers afresh in a thousand valleys. The warmth of the sun makes the world gay and each led tleapss Sl little infant leaps spontaneously intg js mother’s arms, The flowers at his feet are fresh and charming.

In ite of all this, the poet he spite © poet cannot but help feeling that he has lost some of the former glory of nature. Was it merely a vision, the poet wonders as otherwise he could not have missed it Our birth on earth seems to be reminiscence from a past life. This birth of ours we see on earths like a sleep which allows us to forget our past. Our soul that is a spark of the divine inus, comes from adistance. The soul's memory in us as we grow in years seems merely fragmentary. While we may not forget all, we cannot remember everything in full, either. God is our Hofhe Our childhood is the best time of life when something heavenly and divine envelops us. Life on earth in later years is like a prison house. Man then is bound by limitations that do not trouble bin while he isa child. The child that grows into adulthood is conscious of the charm of nature, loves it aid feels it, but the intensity of this feeling is slowly diluted, reduced and fades into mere routine, Man comes from the imperial palace of the divine.

Nature nurses us when we are children, but for some reason, encourages him to forget the glories of nature he has tasted so intensely before as a child. The poet goes-in memory back to the six-year old child that he was, years ago. He remembers his mother's kisses and his father's affectionate glances. Now the poet grown an adult is changed completely. Business, love and strife occupy the center stage of his life. His natural inclinations are no longer valid as imitations replace natural responses to suit his newly chosen work as an adult. The maturity of adulthood and the memories of childhood are sought to be combined into a viable form by the poet. The poet asa little child is no less than a prophet. The little child was a Philosopher. The young child has all the intimations of immortality denied to the adult.

But why does Man in growing into an adult lose this blessedness and invite the drudgery of routine that troubles life on Earth, settling down heavily like frost? The thoughts of our past look like a blessing. Childhood brings new hopes. While the poet appreciates these, he admires more the doubts that trouble the mind of a child as he grows as these ngs and in coming to grips with eternal realities. jon of this no our perception harpening things help us in The poet now calls upon the birds to sing their joyous SONgs and feel the gladness of May. He ixnot unaware that the brightness and glory of childhood are gone, but maintains that one need not grieveover what is past. We should try to make ourselves strong in what remains behind.

Adulthood the poet realizes, has glories of its own. They may not be the same 45 those of childhood. Nevertheless they have a charm of their own, The poet is at last reconciled to his lot, He continues to love the objects of nature, meadows, hills, groves and brooks. The power ol nature continues to be unmistakable. Even a small flower can yield thoughts too deep for tears, Lesson (b)

**"Tintern Abbey': A Critical Appreciation**

Tintern Abbey records the experiences of Wordsworth, 'the contents of his own consciousness' as a critic describes them. The immediate provocation or inspiration of the poém is a distant scene. True to his theory of poetry as emotions recollected in tranquility, Wordsworth is engrossed in the recollec- tions of the scene he wants to take into consideration and describe. The scene and its recollections generate impressions and sensations that fascinate the poet into saying what he says. like many, the poet is

depressed with the din and bustle of life in towns and cities and the cramped existence there. [le is weary with the urban life that is slowly becoming the order of the day. The memories of pictures and impressions from nature remembered and stored in his mind and recollected, relieve him of the tensions associated with the busy and mechanical life as it is lived in towns and cities and bring him back tranquil and serene mood that is very much the need of the hour for everyone and in particular the poet's coveted requirement.

The poet's mood having been thus upbeat, serves to lead him into greater bliss. The poet passes on into a highly philosophical and spiritual mood. Itis amood in which objects of nature and the universe that could not be understood at other times, could easily be comprehended. thanks to the blessed mood and the resultant serenity. The body and its concerns seem to be suspended for a while.

He seems to ha! ave becoCOME not y live living objects and only surface reality SOUL The eye hat could see msrely physiol realities,ac quires in deeper and ju
| wl tuitive poy option, enabling the post 13 lek Spirit al matrix of (hi
Xo thingy ae

ESAs opposed to their mere physicnl appears, deeper into the internal ang
We seem to follow

1 poet thr ' rou, ugh hig Journey into the life of things as though we are hypnotized. No questions are asked The poet j
: tis merely fi ;

smerely followed like an unquestioning leider, Parlier the poet's love of nature was like an apneti
ppetite, alwmger for the sensational, a mere appreciation of the physical appearance and beauty of nature as it pree Sit greeted the naked oye, But things have changed, The
poetbas become a more profound observer of nature, a greater connoisseur of its deeper aspects, He

has understood the paradox of human life as never before in which silences have their own music,

Silence and sorrow appear to be providing a greater basis for music. In later times ag we all know

Shelley could say that our sweetest songs arc those that tell us of the saddest thoughts,

" "Tintern Abbey" thus becomes not merely a record of the poet's impressions and personal experiences, but also serves to establish the much-needed affinity between nature and human nature,

The poet senses a more than physical presence in nature that transforms and elevates his feelings and saneations as individual anda poet. The presence brings to him noble thoughts, 'clevated thoughts'

its dwelling is associated with the inevitable and daily as he calls them. The presence is divine as
. Whether it is the blue sky or the mind of man, or the

-the sunset for examp phenomena of nature
biects-all are guided by this presence-call it the spirit of nature or call it God. thought of thinking © jects :
drawan irreconcilable: and uncompromising distinction between the physical todra
Wordsworth refuses

Could to amalgamate the two worlds that in natural circumstances

He and the spiritu dictory Itisin trying to bridge these opposing aspects ; that the shly contr ; jly and hig appear to be mu c the "Tintern Abbey'. 2 eave Watson, 'the effects of memory, is concerned 0 explore', says Watson, the effects of memory
"In Tintern Abbey - ith The poem deals with the influence of nature on the on time and the landscaP® self up : fo written | ank verse, Wordsvigm. growth and development of the human mind. The poem is written in bla rdsviony, discusses the influence of nature on man's morality, a theme that occurs in "The Prelude'ing slightly
_. fashion. The poem may be studied in three phases or Stages: one suggesting a happy Mood, followed by the description of intuition and its influence on human personality and finally the presence op an all-pervading spirit very much like a divine presence.

Wordsworth's poetry has been rightly divided into three categories, T he first one is obviously the

poetry of nature. The second concerns itself with poetry dealing with man in relation to nature. The thirg

relates to the poetry of man in relation to men .As a result one can see the poet trying to uphold the

dignity of man .The other important aspect that attracts the attention of the reader, we are told, is the strength both moral and intellectual that derives from his interaction with nature.

The theme of the "Tintern Abbey' is continued in The Immortality Ode. The communion of the innocent child with nature is later replaced by the mature vision of the adult. Age has its own
compensations to offer. The innocent joy of a child is compensated in later years with a meditative mood and mind. In the 'Tintern Abbey" the child's joy is read as an instinctive response free of serious

philosophical or meditative contemplation. In the Immortality Ode, we find an interpretative and mature mind in action, trying and struggling to come to terms with intuitive perceptions.

The "Tintern Abbey' thus serves to act as a bridge between the physical and the spiritual worlds in the poet's vision.

**Unit -3**

**Paradise Lost - Book IV**

**John Milton**

Full Name: John Milton

Known For: In addition to his epic poem *Paradise Lost*, Milton produced a considerable amount of poetry, as well as major prose works defending republican virtues and some degree of religious tolerance during the English Civil War.

Occupation: Poet and author

Born: December 9, 1608 in London, England

Died: November 8, 1674 in London, England

Parents: John and Sarah Milton

Spouses: Mary Powell (m. 1642-1652), Katherine Woodcock (m. 1656-1658), Elizabeth Mynshull (m. 1663-1674)

Children: Anne, Mary, John, Deborah, and Katherine Milton

Education: Christ's College, Cambridge

John Milton (December 9, 1608 – November 8, 1674) was an English poet and intellectual who wrote during a period of political and religious turmoil. He's best known for his epic poem *Paradise Lost*, which depicts the fall of Lucifer and the temptation of mankind.

Early Life

Milton was born in London, the eldest son of John Milton, a skillful composer and professional scrivener (a professional who wrote and copied out documents, asliteracy was not widespread), and his wife Sarah. Milton's father was estranged from his own father, since the older generation was Catholic and Milton Sr. had become a Protestant. As a boy, Milton was privately tutored by Thomas Young, a well-educated Presbyterian whose influence was likely the beginning of Milton's radical religious views.

After leaving private tutoring behind, Milton attended St. Paul's, where he studied classicalLatinand Greek, and eventually Christ's College, Cambridge. His first known compositions are a pair of psalms written when he was only fifteen years old. Although he had a reputation for being especially studious, he came into conflict with his tutor, Bishop William Chappel. The extent of their conflict is disputed; Milton did leave the college for a time—either as punishment or because of widespread illness—and when he returned, he had a new tutor.

In 1629, Milton graduated with honors, ranking fourth in his class. He intended to become a priest in the Anglican church, so he stayed at Cambridge to get his master's degree. Despite spending several years at the university, Milton expressed a fair bit of disdain for university life—its strict, Latin-based curriculum, the behavior of his peers—but did make a few friends, including the poet Edward King and the dissident theologian Roger Williams, better known asthe founder of Rhode Island. He spent some of his time writing

poetry, including his first published short poem, "Epitaph on the admirable Dramaticke Poet,W. Shakespeare."

Private Study and European Travel

After acquiring his M.A., Milton spent the next six years in self-guided study and, eventually, travel. He read extensively, both modern and ancient texts, studying literature, theology, philosophy,rhetoric, science, and more, mastering several languages (both ancient and modern) as well. During this time, he continued to write poetry, including two masques commissioned for wealthy patrons, *Arcades* and *Comus*.

In May 1638, Milton began traveling through continental Europe. He traveled through France, including a stop in Paris, before moving on to Italy. In July 1683, he arrived in Florence, where he found welcome among the intellectuals and artists of the city. Thanks to his connections and reputation fromFlorence, he was also welcomed when he arrived in Rome months later. He intended to continue on to Sicily and Greece, but in the summer of 1639, he instead returned to England after the death of a friend and increased tensions.

Upon returning to England, where religious conflicts were brewing, Milton began writing tracts against episcopacy, a religious hierarchy that places local control in the hands of authorities called bishops. He supported himself as a schoolmaster and wrote tracts advocating for the reform of the university system. In 1642, he married Mary Powell, who, at sixteen, was nineteen years his junior. The marriage was unhappy and she left him for three years; his response was to publish pamphlets arguing for the legality and morality of divorce, which brought him some major criticism. Ultimately, she did return, and they had four children together. Their son died in infancy, but all three daughters lived to adulthood.

Political Posting and Pamphleteer

During theEnglishCivil War, Milton was a pro-republican writer and defended the regicide of
Charles I, the right of citizens to hold a monarchy accountable, and the principles of the Commonwealth in multiple books. He was hired by the government as Secretary for Foreign Tongues, ostensibly to compose government correspondence in Latin, but also to act as a propagandist and even acensor.

In 1652, Milton's defense of the English people, *Defensio pro Populo Anglicano*, was published in Latin. Two years later, he published a pro-Oliver Cromwell follow-up as a rebuttal to a royalist text that also attacked Milton personally. Although he had published a collection of poems in 1645, his poetry was largely overshadowed at the time by his political and religious tracts.

An engraving depicts Milton playing piano for Oliver Cromwell and his family. Stock Montage/Getty Images

That same year, however, Milton became almost entirely blind, mostly likely due tobilateral retinal detachment or glaucoma. He continued to produce both prose and poetry by dictating his words to assistants. He produced one of his most famous sonnets, "When I Consider How My Life Is Spent," during this era, musing on his loss of sight. In 1656, he

married Katherine Woodcock. She died in 1658, months after giving birth to their daughter, who also died.

The Restoration and Final Years

In 1658, Oliver Cromwell died and the English Republic fell into a mess of warring factions. Milton stubbornly defended his ideals of republicanism even as the country shifted back towards a monarchy, denouncing the concept of a church dominated by the government and the very concept of monarchy.

With the Restoration of the monarchy in 1660, Milton was forced into hiding, with a warrant out for his arrest and orders for all his writings to be burned. Eventually, he was pardoned and was able to live out his final years without fear of imprisonment. He remarried once more, to 24-yearold Elizabeth Mynshull, who had a strained relationship with his daughters.

A cover page for the first edition of Paradise Lost, published in 1667. Heritage Images/Getty Images

During this final period of his life, Milton continued writing prose and poetry. The majority was not overtly political, save for a few publications arguing for religious toleration (but only between Protestant denominations, excluding Catholics and non-Christians) and anti-absolute monarchy. Most crucially, he finished*ParadiseLost*, an epic poem in blank verse narrating the fall of Lucifer and of mankind, in 1664. The poem, considered his *magnum opus* and one of the masterpieces of the English language, demonstrates his Christian/humanist philosophy and is famous—and, occasionally, controversial—for portraying Lucifer as three-dimensional and even sympathetic.

Milton died of kidney failure on November 8, 1674. He was buried in the church of St Gileswithout-Cripplegate in London, after a funeral attended by all of his friends from intellectual circles. His legacy lives on, influencing generations of writers who came after (especially, but not solely, due to *Paradise Lost*). His poetry is as revered as his prose tracts, and he is often considered, alongside writers such as Shakespeare, to be up for the title of the greatest English writer in history.

Satanlands atop Mount Niphates, just north of Paradise, the Garden of Eden. He becomes gripped with doubt about the task in front of him; seeing the beauty and innocence of Earth has reminded him of what he once was. He even briefly considers whether he could be forgiven if he repented. But Hell follows him wherever he goes—Satan is actually the embodiment of Hell. If he asks the Father for forgiveness, he knows it would be a false confession; he reasons that if he returned to Heaven, he still could not bear to bow down. Knowing redemption or salvation cannot be granted to him, he resolves to continue to commit acts of sin and evil. He does not notice that during his internal debate, he has inadvertently revealed his devilish nature. He is observed by Uriel, the archangel he tricked into pointing the way. Uriel notices his conflicting facial expressions, and since all cherubs have permanent looks of joy on their faces, Uriel concludes that Satan cannot be a cherub.

Satan now approaches Eden, which is surrounded by a great thicket wall. He easily leaps over it like a wolf entering a sheep’s pen. Inside he sees an idyllic world, with all varieties

of animals and trees. He can see the tallest of the trees, the Tree of Life—and next to it, the forbidden Tree of Knowledge. He perches himself on the Tree of Life, disguised as a cormorant, a large sea bird. Finally, he notices two creatures walking erect among the other animals. They walk naked without shame, and work pleasantly, tending the garden. Satan's pain and envy intensifies as he sees this new beautiful race, created after he and his legions fell. He could have loved them, but now, his damnation will be revenged through their destruction. He continues to watch them, and the man,Adam, speaks. He tellsEvenot to complain of the work they have to do but to be obedient toGod, since God has given them so many blessings, and only one constraint: they must not eat the fruit of the Tree of Knowledge. Eve agrees wholeheartedly, and they embrace.

Eve tells Adam of her first awakening as she came to life and how she wondered who and where she was. She found a river and followed it upstream to its source. Her path led to a clear, smooth lake, and Eve looked into the lake, seeing an image in its surface, which she soon discovers is her own. She hears a voice explaining to her that she was made out of Adam, and with him she will become the mother of the human race. Overlooking Adam and Eve, Satan sees his opportunity. If the Father has given them a rule to follow, then they might be persuaded to break it. He leaves the two for a while, going off to learn more from other angels.

Meanwhile, Uriel comes before the Archangel Gabriel, at the gate of Eden, and tells him about the shape-changing spirit that he saw from the hilltop. They both suspect that it might be one of the fallen ones. Gabriel promises that if the spirit is in the garden, they will find it by morning.

Around this time, Adam and Eve finish their day's work. They go to their leafy bower, praising God and each other for their blissful life, and after a short prayer, they lie together—making love without sin, because lust had not yet tainted their natures.

Night falls, and Gabriel sends search parties into the Garden. Two of his angels find Satan, disguised as a toad, whispering into the ear of Eve as she sleeps. They pull him before Gabriel, who recognizes him, and demands to know what he is doing in Paradise. Satan at first feigns innocence, as they have no proof that he means harm. But Gabriel knows him to be a liar, and threatens to drag him back to Hell. Enraged by this threat, Satan prepares to fight him. The two square off for a decisive battle, but a sign from Heaven—the appearance in the sky of a pair of golden scales—stops them. Satan recognizes the sign as meaning he could not win, and flies off.

Analysis: Book IV

As Book IV opens, Milton presents Satan as a character deeply affected by envy and despair. Earlier in the poem, Satan seems perfectly confident in his rebellion and evil plans. His feeling of despair at the beauty of Paradise temporarily impairs this confidence. While in Hell, Satan tells himself that his mind could make its own Heaven out of Hell, but now he realizes that the reverse is true. As close to Heaven as he is, he cannot help but feel out of place, because he brings Hell with him wherever he goes. For Satan, Hell is not simply a place, but rather a state of mind brought on by a lack of connection with God. Satan's despondent recognition of this fact corresponds with what Milton sees as the worst

sin of all: despair. If even this beautiful new world cannot make Satan forget Hell, then he can never hope to seek forgiveness and return to Heaven.

As the Bible says, the one sin that cannot be forgiven is despairing of forgiveness; if one cannot even ask for mercy, it cannot be granted. Satan realizes this, and decides that the only course of action is to enjoy his own wickedness, and pursue it with all his strength. Milton preempts the crucial question of whether Satan could have successfully repented back in Book III. There, God said that he would give grace to humankind because Satan would prompt humankind's sin. But he would not help the fallen angels, and especially Satan, because their sin came out of themselves and from no other source.

Read more about whether Satan is portrayed as a sympathetic character.

Satan's continuing process of degradation is reflected in his use of progressively despicable, lowly disguises. Through these first three books of *Paradise Lost,* Satan's physical presence takes many different forms. In Book I, he is a monumental figure so large that the largest tree would seem a paltry wand in his hand. In Book III, he disguises himself as a cherub, but his inner turmoil ultimately ruins this benign-seeming appearance. Satan is later described as leaping over Eden's fence like a wolf into a sheep's pen. While he does not exactly take the form of a wolf, he continues to be compared to and associated with wild, predatory animals. He takes the shape of a bird atop the Tree of Life, then morphs into a toad to whisper temptation into Eve's ear. Satan's shapes become progressively less impressive and stately. Once an imposing figure, he shrinks himself to become a lesser angel, then a mere bird, and finally a much less appealing animal: a toad.

Satan's gradual degradation.

In this book, we are presented with Eve's first memories of awakening to consciousness, though we have to wait until Book VIII to see Adam's first memories. Eve's account subtly underscores her distance from God and need for guidance. She awakens in shade rather than daylight, suggesting her separation from the light of God's truth. Almost immediately, she finds herself captivated and deceived by an image—her reflection in the water, which she does not recognize as merely an image. She admits that she would probably still be by the water's edge, fixated there in vain desire, if it wasn't for God's calling her away. This image recalls the story of Narcissus from Ovid's *Metamorphoses,* a story that Renaissance poets such as Petrarch used to show that erotic desire is based on visual images that are inherently vain and deceptive. Milton's allusion to Narcissus makes a similar point: human beings, especially women, need God's help to escape the trap of desire based on images. Significantly, it is the voice rather than the visual image of God that calls her away. Also noteworthy in this context is the fact that in his first speech to Eve, God says that Eve is herself an image—the reflection of Adam.

After God leads Eve away from her reflection, she first encounters Adam under a platan tree. Platan is the Greek name for plane tree, and by giving the name of the tree in Greek rather than English, Milton alludes to Plato, the Greek philosopher, whose name is etymologically linked with that of the plane tree. The most well-known of Plato's arguments is the thesis that reality consists of ideal forms that can only be perceived by the intellect, in contrast with the deceptive shades or reflections of these ideal forms that

human beings perceive in everyday life. Milton associates the platan tree, or Plato, with Adam, suggesting that he is closer to the ideal forms or essences of things, whereas Eve is more part of the world of images, shade, and illusion, and is led away from illusions only reluctantly.

Light and dark as a motif.

Milton's presentation of Adam and Eve was controversial in his time. Milton paints an idyllic picture of an innocent, strong, and intelligent Adam, whereas Christian tradition more typically emphasizes Adam's basically sinful nature. The Puritans, like many other Christians, viewed the sexual act as inherently sinful—a necessary evil that cannot be avoided precisely because man has fallen. Milton, in contrast, makes a point of noting that Adam and Eve enjoy pure, virtuous sexual pleasure without sin: they love, but do not lust. Milton implies that not only is sex not evil, but that demonizing it goes against God's will. He persuasively argues that God mandates procreation, and that anyone who would advocate complete abstinence (as St. Paul does in the New Testament) would be an enemy to God and God's magnificent creation.

Furthermore, Eve's story about seeing her reflection in the water hints that her vanity may become a serious flaw—and weakness—later on. Her curiosity is sparked by her lack of understanding about who she is and where she is. She traces the river back to its source just as she wishes to trace herself to her source, through emotional self-reflection, in search of answers to her difficult questions. Also, her willingness to listen and believe the voice she hears, which tells her about her identity, also foreshadows that she will trust another voice she will hear later—Satan's.

**Read an in-depth analysis of Adam.**

Milton's presentation of Adam and Eve is controversial in our own time because the discourse between Adam and Eve strikes many modern audiences as misogynistic. Milton portrays Adam as her superior because he has a closer relationship to God. The idea that Adam was created to serve God only, and Eve is created to serve both God and Adam, illustrates Milton's belief that women were created to serve men. The narrator remarks of Adam and Eve that their difference in quality was apparent—"their sex not equal seemed" (IV.296). Milton implies that she is weaker in mind as well as body than Adam. Eve herself freely admits her secondary and subordinate role. When she explains her dependence on him she explains to Adam that she is created because of him and is lost without him. Having Eve herself possess and verbalize these misogynistic, submissive views adds a peculiar and somewhat disturbing power to the conversation. Milton's views on the relations between men and women were certainly common, if not dogmatic, in his time. Milton's reading of the Bible dictated that in marriage the woman is to obey the man, and that he is her ruler. The relationship between Adam and Eve, though unequal, remains perfectly happy, because they both in the end live in praise of God. Eve accepts her role as Adam does his own, and God loves both equally.

**Character List**

**Satan**

Head of the rebellious angels who have just fallen from Heaven. As the poem's antagonist, Satan is the originator of sin—the first to be ungrateful for God the Father's blessings. He embarks on a mission to Earth that eventually leads to the fall of Adam and Eve, but also worsens his eternal punishment. His character changes throughout the poem. Satan often appears to speak rationally and persuasively, but later in the poem we see the inconsistency and irrationality of his thoughts. He can assume any form, adopting both glorious and humble shapes.

Adam

The first human, the father of our race, and, along with his wife Eve, the caretaker of the Garden of Eden. Adam is grateful and obedient to God, but falls from grace when Eve convinces him to join her in the sin of eating from the Tree of Knowledge.

**Eve**

The first woman and the mother of mankind. Eve was made from a rib taken from Adam's side. Because she was made from Adam and for Adam, she is subservient to him. She is also weaker than Adam, so Satan focuses his powers of temptation on her. He succeeds in getting her to eat the fruit of the forbidden tree despite God's command.

**God the Father**

One part of the Christian Trinity. God the Father creates the world by means of God the Son, creating Adam and Eve last. He foresees the fall of mankind through them. He does not prevent their fall, in order to preserve their free will, but he does allow his Son to atone for their sins.

**God the Son**

Jesus Christ, the second part of the Trinity. He delivers the fatal blow to Satan's forces, sending them down into Hell, before the creation of Earth. When the fall of man is predicted, He offers himself as a sacrifice to pay for the sins of mankind, so that God the Father can be both just and merciful.

Beelzebub

Satan's second-in-command. Beelzebub discusses with Satan their options after being cast into Hell, and at the debate suggests that they investigate the newly created Earth. He and Satan embody perverted reason, since they are both eloquent and rational but use their talents for wholly corrupt ends.

**Belial**

One of the principal devils in Hell. Belial argues against further war with Heaven, but he does so because he is an embodiment of sloth and inactivity, not for any good reason. His eloquence and learning is great, and he is able to persuade many of the devils with his faulty reasoning.

**Mammon**

A devil known in the Bible as the epitome of wealth. Mammon always walks hunched over, as if he is searching the ground for valuables. In the debate among the devils, he argues against war, seeing no profit to be gained from it. He believes Hell can be improved by mining the gems and minerals they find there.

**Mulciber**

The devil who builds Pandemonium, Satan's palace in Hell. Mulciber's character is based on a Greek mythological figure known for being a poor architect, but in Milton's poem he is one of the most productive and skilled devils in Hell.

**Moloch**

A rash, irrational, and murderous devil. Moloch argues in Pandemonium that the devils should engage in another full war against God and his servant angels.

**Sin**

Satan's daughter, who sprang full-formed from Satan's head when he was still in Heaven. Sin has the shape of a woman above the waist, that of a serpent below, and her middle is ringed about with Hell Hounds, who periodically burrow into her womb and gnaw her entrails. She guards the gates of Hell.

**Death**

Satan's son by his daughter, Sin. Death in turn rapes his mother, begetting the mass of beasts that torment her lower half. The relations between Death, Sin, and Satan mimic horribly those of the Holy Trinity.

**Gabriel**

One of the archangels of Heaven, who acts as a guard at the Garden of Eden. Gabriel confronts Satan after his angels find Satan whispering to Eve in the Garden.

Raphael

One of the archangels in Heaven, who acts as one of God's messengers. Raphael informs Adam of Satan's plot to seduce them into sin, and also narrates the story of the fallen angels, as well as the fall of Satan.

**Uriel**

An angel who guards the planet earth. Uriel is the angel whom Satan tricks when he is disguised as a cherub. Uriel, as a good angel and guardian, tries to correct his error by making the other angels aware of Satan's presence.

**Abdiel**

An angel who at first considers joining Satan in rebellion but argues against Satan and the rebel angels and returns to God. His character demonstrates the power of repentance.

**Michael**

The chief of the archangels, Michael leads the angelic forces against Satan and his followers in the battle in Heaven, before the Son provides the decisive advantage. Michael also stands guard at the Gate of Heaven, and narrates the future of the world to Adam in Books XI and XII.

**The Rape of The Lock**

**By Alexander Pope**

Alexander Pope (21 May 1688O.S.[1]– 30 May 1744) was an English poet, translator, and satirist of theEnlightenmentera who is considered one of the most prominent English poets of the early 18th century. An exponent ofAugustan literature,[2]Pope is best known for his satirical and discursive poetry including*The Rape of the Lock*,*The Dunciad*, and*An Essay on Criticism*, and for his translations ofHomer.

Pope is often quoted in*The Oxford Dictionary of Quotations*, some of his verses having entered common parlance (e.g. "damning with faint praise" or "to err is human; to forgive, divine." Life

Alexander Pope was born in London on 21 May 1688 during the year of theGlorious Revolution. His father (Alexander Pope, 1646–1717) was a successful linen merchant in theStrand,London. His mother, Edith (1643–1733), was the daughter of William Turner, Esquire, ofYork. Both parents wereCatholics.]His mother's sister was the wife of famous miniature painterSamuel Cooper. Pope's education was affected by the recently enactedTest Acts, a series of English penal laws that upheld the status of theestablishedChurch of England,banning Catholics from teaching, attending a university, voting, and holding public office on penalty of perpetual imprisonment. Pope was taught to read by his aunt and attendedTwyford Schoolcirca 1698.[3]He also attended two Roman Catholic schools in London.[3]Such schools, though still illegal, were tolerated in some areas.

In 1700, his family moved to a small estate atPopeswood, inBinfield,Berkshire, close to the royalWindsor Forest.[3]This was due to strong anti-Catholic sentiment and a statute preventing "Papists" from living within 10 miles (16 km) of London or Westminster. Pope would later describe the countryside around the house in his poem*Windsor Forest*.[6]Pope's formal education ended at this time, and from then on, he mostly educated himself by reading the works of classical writers such as thesatiristsHoraceandJuvenal, theepic poetsHomerandVirgil, as well as English authors such asGeoffrey Chaucer,William ShakespeareandJohn Dryden.[3]He studied many languages, reading works by French, Italian, Latin, and Greek poets. After five years of study, Pope came into contact with figures from London literary society such asWilliam Congreve,Samuel GarthandWilliam Trumbull.

At Binfield he made many important friends. One of them,John Carylthe future dedicatee of*The Rape of the Lock*), was twenty years older than the poet and had made many acquaintances in the London literary world. He introduced the young Pope to the ageing playwrightWilliam Wycherleyand toWilliam Walsh, a minor poet, who helped Pope revise

his first major work,*The Pastorals*. There, he met the Blount sisters,TeresaandMartha (Patty), in 1707. He remained close friends with Patty until his death, but his friendship with Teresa ended in 1722.

Pope's villaatTwickenham, showing thegrotto; from a watercolour produced soon after his death

From the age of 12 he suffered numerous health problems, includingPott disease, a form oftuberculosisthat affects the spine, which deformed his body and stunted his growth, leaving him with a severe hunchback. His tuberculosis infection caused other health problems including respiratory difficulties, high fevers, inflamed eyes and abdominal pain.[3]He grew to a height of only 4 feet 6 inches (1.37 metres). Pope was already removed from society as a Catholic, and his poor health alienated him further. Although he never married, he had many female friends to whom he wrote witty letters, includingLady Mary Wortley Montagu. It has been alleged that his lifelong friend Martha Blount was his lover. His friendWilliam Cheseldensaid, according toJoseph Spence, "I could give a more particular account of Mr. Pope's health than perhaps any man.Cibber's slander (of carnosity) is false. He had been gay [happy], but left that way of life upon his acquaintance with Mrs. B."

In May 1709, Pope's *Pastorals* was published in the sixth part of booksellerJacob Tonson's*Poetical Miscellanies*. This earned Pope instant fame and was followed by*An Essay on Criticism*, published in May 1711, which was equally well received. Around 1711, Pope made friends with Tory writersJonathan Swift,Thomas ParnellandJohn Arbuthnot, who together formed the satiricalScriblerus Club. Its aim was to satirise ignorance and pedantry through the fictional scholar Martinus Scriblerus. He also made friends withWhigwritersJoseph AddisonandRichard Steele. In March 1713, *Windsor Forest*[6]was published to great acclaim. During Pope's friendship with Joseph Addison, he contributed to Addison's play*Cato*, as well as writing for*The Guardian*and*The Spectator*. Around this time, he began the work of translating the*Iliad*, which was a painstaking process – publication began in 1715 and did not end until 1720.

In 1714 the political situation worsened with the death of Queen Anne and the disputed succession between theHanoveriansand theJacobites, leading to theJacobite rising of 1715. Though Pope, as a Catholic, might have been expected to have supported the Jacobites because of his religious and political affiliations, according to Maynard Mack, "where Pope himself stood on these matters can probably never be confidently known". These events led to an immediate downturn in the fortunes of theTories, and Pope's friendHenry St John, 1st Viscount Bolingbroke, fled to France. Pope lived in his parents' house in Mawson Row,Chiswick, between 1716 and 1719; the red-brick building is now the*Mawson Arms*, commemorating him with ablue plaque. The money made from his translation of Homer allowed Pope to move in 1719 toa villa at Twickenham, where he created his now-famousgrottoand gardens. The serendipitous discovery of a spring during the excavation of the subterranean retreat enabled it to be filled with the relaxing sound of trickling water, which would quietly echo around the chambers. Pope was said to have remarked, "Were it to have nymphs as well – it would be complete in everything." Although the house and gardens have long since been demolished, much of the grotto

survives beneath Radnor House Independent Co-educational School.[8][13]The grotto has been restored and will open to the public for 30 weekends a year from 2023 under the auspices of Pope's Grotto Preservation Trust.

**The Rape of the Lock**

**Overview**

The *Rape of the Lock* was written byAlexander Popeand first published in 1712, then reworked and published again in 1714. The poem is a mock-epic that satirizes the upper-class in London at the time.The story focuses on the central character, Belinda, whose lock of hair is cut off at a social gathering. Although trivial to most, Belinda is outraged that her lock of hair has been cut by the Baron. In the *Rape of the Lock*, Pope uses Belinda and the Baron to mock two of his acquaintances, Arabella Fermor, and Lord Petre. The poem follows the events of the night, leading up to Belinda's "horrific" loss.

**The Story**

Pope wrote *The Rape of the Lock*in response to a request made my his friend John Caryll, a prominent Roman Catholic of the time. Caryll explained that his friend, Lord Petre, had cut off a lock of Arabella Fermor's hair. Ever since the incident, the families had been feuding. In order to make light of the situation, Pope wrote *The Rape of the Lock*. "The stealing of Miss Belle Fermor's hair, was taken too seriously, and caused an estrangement between the two families, though they had lived so long in great friendship before. A common acquaintance and wellwisher to both, desired me to write a poem to make a jest of it, and laugh them together again. It was with this view that I wrote the Rape of the Lock." Born into the upper-class, Arabella Fermor was the daughter of Henry Fermor. Known for her beauty, she was the belle of the London society in the early 18th century. After telling her family about the incident involving her lock of hair, they were offended and became estranged from their once good friends, the Petres. In Pope's poem, Belinda represents the character of Arabella Fermor.

**History of the Poem**

Although written in 1711 and published in 1712, *The Rape of the Lock* went through many stages before becoming the poem as we know it today. The first version was only two cantos long, but with each version, the story became progressively longer. A year later, Pope improved upon his work by polishing the piece, as well as adding elements from the supernatural. However, this version was not published until 1714. Finally, in 1717, upon preparing for a publication of a collection of his work, Pope wrote the version that we know today. This version is five cantos long, and includes Clarissa's speech, which aids in describing the morality behind the poem. However, it is interesting to note that by the time Pope had finished the latest version, Lord Petre had died of smallpox, and Arabella was married, so the feud which the poem was originally written to mend was no longer relevant.

**Plot Summary**

Pope begins with an overview of the problem at hand; a baron has committed a terrible offense against a young lady, but we do not yet know what this offense is a sylph, or spirit, named Ariel warns a young woman named Belinda that an offense will be committed against her, but she does not include where or when Belinda, clearly a woman from high social standings, prepares herself for a social event by putting on makeup and generally just dolling herself up she travels to where the social event is being held, and is thought to be more beautiful than anyone else; her hair especially is always the object of envy a baron, who especially admires Belinda's beautiful golden locks of hair, has decided to attempt to cut off a lock of her hair, as it would be the finest treasure he could hope to have he so badly wanted this lock that he even prayed to the gods and lit an altar fire; the ridiculousness of this behavior for just a piece of hair is a good example of the satire that Pope employs everyone plays a card game called Ombre, and although it seems clear that the Baron will win, Belinda does not give up hope this game is described as an almost life-or-death situation; Pope makes the card game seem like an important battle, and by doing so he is in effect mocking high society for equating a card game to war. The game ends and Belinda wins Clarissa fetches a pair of scissors for the Baron to cut Belinda's hair The Baron cuts a lock from Belinda's hair and she becomes infuriated Umbriel, a gnome, travels down to the underworld to get Belinda a bag of sighs and a vial of tears. The gifts were brought to comfort Belinda, Clarissa tries to calm Belinda down but it does not work Belinda throws a handful of snuff at the Baron and a "battle" begins the battle ends and the lock of hair is nowhere to be found. Belinda arises to prepare for the day's social activities after sleeping late. Her guardian sylph, Ariel, warned her in a dream that some disaster will befall her, and promises to protect her to the best of his abilities. Belinda takes little notice of this oracle, however. After an elaborate ritual of dressing and primping, she travels on the Thames River to Hampton Court Palace, an ancient royal residence outside of London, where a group of wealthy young socialites are gathering for a party. Among them is the Baron, who has already made up his mind to steal a lock of Belinda's hair. He has risen early to perform and elaborate set of prayers and sacrifices to promote success in this enterprise.

When the partygoers arrive at the palace, they enjoy a tense game of cards, which Pope describes in mock-heroic terms as a battle. This is followed by a round of coffee. Then the Baron takes up a pair of scissors and manages, on the third try, to cut off the coveted lock of Belinda's hair. Belinda is furious. Umbriel, a mischievous gnome, journeys down to the Cave of Spleen to procure a sack of sighs and a flask of tears which he then bestows on the heroine to fan the flames of her ire. Clarissa, who had aided the Baron in his crime, now urges Belinda to give up her anger in favor of good humor and good sense, moral qualities which will outlast her vanities. But Clarissa's moralizing falls on deaf ears, and Belinda initiates a scuffle between the ladies and the gentlemen, in which she attempts to recover the severed curl. The lock is lost in the confusion of this mock battle, however; the poet consoles the bereft Belinda with the suggestion that it has been taken up into the heavens and immortalized as a constellation

The Augustan

Some major characteristics of Augustan literature include:

The use of classical Greek and Roman models of poetry. The purpose of poetry was thought to be to instruct and delight the population. The idea that human society should be ordered, balanced, and rational, just as the universe was thought to be; any upset of this careful balance of nature could have catastrophic consequences. The use of satire in order to point out flaws in human behavior/society. Satire was used to mock certain behaviors; by pointing them out and mocking them, authors hoped to get people to correct them. Pope significantly employs two of these writing styles in *Rape of the Lock*; the use of classical models and the use of satire in order to correct human flaws. Classical Models- Pope's piece is in the style of classical Greek and Roman epics, and more specifically it is a parody of the abduction of Helen of Troy in the classic Greek epic *The Iliad*, as the theft of Belinda's lock is compared to the abduction of Helen. Other characteristics of classical epics include:

Division of the poem into Cantos or books- Pope divides his poem into 5 Cantos; Presence of spirits or supernatural beings- Sylphs are present in this poem; they are like miniature gods and goddesses that are present in Greek epics Underworld- Epics often have scenes taking place in the underworld; in Pope's poem, we see Umbriel visiting the underworld. Soldiers preparing for battle- Epics often describe in-depth the armor and weapons that soldiers use for battle, and in *Rape of the Lock*, Pope uses this method to describe Belinda preparing herself with things such as combs and pins. He writes, "Here files of pins extend their shining rows / puffs, powders, patches, Bibles, billet-doux / now awful Beauty puts on all its arms"(lines 137-139). He is clearly mocking Belinda's preparation by describing her pins, etc. as though they were arms she would be doing battle with.

Satire- Pope uses satire in this poem to paint a portrait of England at this time and to point out its moral flaws. The main apparent satire is of course the comparison of Belinda's stolen lock to the abduction of Helen of Troy. By making a huge deal out of such a trivial thing, Pope is mocking his society. He believes that many of England's faults comes from the fact that British society is too concerned with frivolities and trivialities and is very self-absorbed. If the biggest problem these people have is that a lock of hair is stolen from a girl, then they have it pretty good, and Pope uses this poem in an attempt to hold a mirror up to his own society. He wants them to see that their "woes" are not woes at all, and that they need to start worrying about more important things in life because the life that they currently lead is devoid of any meaning; the people in it exist solely to dress up and engage in petty fights.

Pope's piece is also special because it was the first mock-epic, which is in fact a sort of combination of the use of classical models and satire. Pope modeled his poem after his own translation of Homer's *The Iliad*, a classical Greek epic, yet also employed the use of satire to create a mock-epic. Because the nature of the problem, Belinda's stolen lock of hair, is in fact quite trivial, Pope's assertion that it is in fact of the utmost importance creates the satire that forms the "mock" part of the mock-epic.

**Characters**

Belinda: Beautiful young lady with wondrous hair, two locks of which hang gracefully in curls.

The Baron: Young admirer of Belinda who plots to cut off one of her locks.
Ariel: Belinda's guardian sylph (supernatural creature).

Clarissa: Young lady who gives the Baron scissors to cut off the lock

Umbriel: Sprite who enters the cave of the Queen of Spleen to seek help for Belinda.

Queen of Spleen: Underworld goddess who gives Umbriel gifts for Belinda.

Thalestris: Friend of Belinda. Thalestris urges Sir Plume to defend Belinda's honor.

Sir Plume: Beau of Thalestris. He scolds the Baron.

**Analysis of Main Characters**

Belinda– A vain, upper class woman who is always seen as the center of attention. Her society puts her on a high pedestal, always giving her praise when possible. The Baron steals a curl of
Belinda's hair when given the scissors by Belinda's friend, Clarissa. When The Baron cuts the curl from her head, the typically calm, collective Belinda flies into a horrible rage. She asks at once for her hair to be returned to her but when The Baron cannot find the curl, it is said that it traveled up into the stars and is now a constellation for all to admire. It looks as though Pope used this mock-epic work to represent the fascination that society has of the members of the upper class. Belinda's beauty was admired by all and many were jealous of her (The Baron, Clarissa). The tension between the people in the upper class is illustrated by these characters and the fight to steal another person's power. Pope compares the trivial event in his poem to the events in epic poems by using satire. The events that occur in this poem show how the society being described has lost all capability of determining which problems are to be treated seriously and which should not.

The Baron– The Baron is a representation of Lord Petre who Pope knew from his social circle.

Clarissa– Clarissa is Belinda's jealous friend who wishes to hurt Belinda by stealing a lock of her hair. Following the mock-epic trend of the poem, Clarissa believes that cutting a small curl of Belinda's hair will be devastating although truthfully many worse things could happen.

**Themes**

***Upper Class***

Pope uses the upper class for the basis of his poem; they are mocked because Pope believes they do not care about serious matters, have narrow-minded ideas about the world in which they live, and do not possess the ability to look beyond trivialities. The chaos that ensues when Belinda's lock is stolen serves to poke fun at the upper class; Average people reading this poem can see how ridiculous it is that they get so upset at the theft of a piece of hair and go to such lengths to retrieve it, and because Pope exaggerates the situation so much, upper class readers will recognize the mockery and feel embarrassed that they act in such a manner. Pope used the upper class primarily to point out their flaws to them through

the use of satire/mock-epic. A part that is most heavily laden with sarcasm is the ending in which Pope writes, “When those fair suns shall set, as set they must, And all those tresses shall be laid in dust; This lock, the Muse shall consecrate to fame, And ‘midst the stars inscribe Belinda’s name!”Pope finishes the poem by claiming that the lock will be immortalized, which is a ridiculous statement and one that is quite clearly sarcastic; Pope’s intent with this is to make one final mark on the upper class reader. He is hoping to shame them into correcting their behaviors and start caring about things besides beauty and status.

**Trivialities**

Pope emphasizes the idea that people should not focus on trivial things such as the loss of a piece of hair, but rather should search for the truly meaningful things in life. He also asserts that being able to laugh at oneself and at life once in a while is a key ingredient in having a successful life.

“But since, alas! frail beauty must decay, Curled or uncurled, since locks will turn to grey, Since painted or unpainted, all shall fade, And she who scorns a man must die a maid; What then remains, but well our pow’r to use, And keep good humor still whate’er we lose? And trust me, dear! good humor can prevail, When airs, and flights, and screams, and scolding fail.” Clarissa claims that beauty always dies, so it is important to care about things deeper than beauty; she also believes that always keeping a sense of humor will enable people to laugh at themselves and their sometimes petty behavior, and ultimately realize that getting upset about something or taking trivial things too seriously will only create further tension and destroy society. By making fun of a real life situation, Pope is commenting on the vanity and trivialness of high society during his time. Pope suggests that society has no concept of priority, in that they treat the trivial with the same amount of severity as the serious. *The Rape of the Lock* was written In the fervent hopes that Pope’s fellow members of society, including the Fermors and Petres, would learn from their trivialities and be able to separate that which matters, from that which does not.

**Unit-4**

**Lines Composed a Few Miles above Tintern Abbey, On Revisiting the Banks of the Wye during a Tour. July 13, 1798**

**BY WILLIAMWORDSWORTH**

Through a long absence, have not been to me As is a landscape to a blind man's eye:
But oft, in lonely rooms, and 'mid the din

Of towns and cities, I have owed to them,

In hours of weariness, sensations sweet,

Felt in the blood, and felt along the heart;

And passing even into my purer mind

With tranquil restoration:—feelings too

Of unremembered pleasure: such, perhaps,

As have no slight or trivial influence

On that best portion of a good man's life,

His little, nameless, unremembered, acts

Of kindness and of love. Nor less, I trust,

To them I may have owed another gift,

Of aspect more sublime; that blessed mood,

In which the burthen of the mystery,

In which the heavy and the weary weight

Of all this unintelligible world,

Is lightened:—that serene and blessed mood,

In which the affections gently lead us on,—

Until, the breath of this corporeal frame

And even the motion of our human blood

Almost suspended, we are laid asleep In body, and become a living soul:
While with an eye made quiet by the power

Of harmony, and the deep power of joy,

We see into the life of things.

If this

Be but a vain belief, yet, oh! how oft—

In darkness and amid the many shapes

Of joyless daylight; when the fretful stir

Unprofitable, and the fever of the world,

Have hung upon the beatings of my heart—

How oft, in spirit, have I turned to thee, O sylvan Wye! thou wanderer thro' the woods,
How often has my spirit turned to thee!

And now, with gleams of half-extinguished thought,

With many recognitions dim and faint,

And somewhat of a sad perplexity,

The picture of the mind revives again:

While here I stand, not only with the sense

Of present pleasure, but with pleasing thoughts

That in this moment there is life and food

For future years. And so I dare to hope,

Though changed, no doubt, from what I was when first

I came among these hills; when like a roe

I bounded o'er the mountains, by the sides

Of the deep rivers, and the lonely streams,

Wherever nature led: more like a man

Flying from something that he dreads, than one

Who sought the thing he loved. For nature then
(The coarser pleasures of my boyish days
And their glad animal movements all gone by)
To me was all in all.—I cannot paint
What then I was. The sounding cataract
Haunted me like a passion: the tall rock,
The mountain, and the deep and gloomy wood,
Their colours and their forms, were then to me
An appetite; a feeling and a love,
That had no need of a remoter charm,
By thought supplied, nor any interest
Unborrowed from the eye.—That time is past,
And all its aching joys are now no more,
And all its dizzy raptures. Not for this
Faint I, nor mourn nor murmur; other gifts
Have followed; for such loss, I would believe,
Abundant recompense. For I have learned
To look on nature, not as in the hour
Of thoughtless youth; but hearing oftentimes
The still sad music of humanity,
Nor harsh nor grating, though of ample power
To chasten and subdue.—And I have felt
A presence that disturbs me with the joy
Of elevated thoughts; a sense sublime
Of something far more deeply interfused,
Whose dwelling is the light of setting suns,
And the round ocean and the living air,
And the blue sky, and in the mind of man:

A motion and a spirit, that impels

All thinking things, all objects of all thought,

And rolls through all things. Therefore am I still

A lover of the meadows and the woods

And mountains; and of all that we behold

From this green earth; of all the mighty world

Of eye, and ear,—both what they half create,

And what perceive; well pleased to recognise

In nature and the language of the sense

The anchor of my purest thoughts, the nurse, The guide, the guardian of my heart, and soul Of all my moral being.

Nor perchance, If I were not thus taught, should I the more Suffer my genial spirits to decay:
For thou art with me here upon the banks

Of this fair river; thou my dearest Friend,

My dear, dear Friend; and in thy voice I catch

The language of my former heart, and read

My former pleasures in the shooting lights

Of thy wild eyes. Oh! yet a little while

May I behold in thee what I was once,

My dear, dear Sister! and this prayer I make,

Knowing that Nature never did betray

The heart that loved her; 'tis her privilege,

Through all the years of this our life, to lead From joy to joy: for she can so inform

The mind that is within us, so impress

With quietness and beauty, and so feed

With lofty thoughts, that neither evil tongues,

Rash judgments, nor the sneers of selfish men,

Nor greetings where no kindness is, nor all

The dreary intercourse of daily life,
Shall e'er prevail against us, or disturb
Our cheerful faith, that all which we behold
Is full of blessings. Therefore let the moon
Shine on thee in thy solitary walk;
And let the misty mountain-winds be free
To blow against thee: and, in after years,
When these wild ecstasies shall be matured
Into a sober pleasure; when thy mind
Shall be a mansion for all lovely forms,
Thy memory be as a dwelling-place
For all sweet sounds and harmonies; oh! then,
If solitude, or fear, or pain, or grief,
Should be thy portion, with what healing thoughts
Of tender joy wilt thou remember me,
And these my exhortations! Nor, perchance—
If I should be where I no more can hear
Thy voice, nor catch from thy wild eyes these gleams
Of past existence—wilt thou then forget
That on the banks of this delightful stream
We stood together; and that I, so long
A worshipper of Nature, hither came
Unwearied in that service: rather say
With warmer love—oh! with far deeper zeal
Of holier love. Nor wilt thou then forget,
That after many wanderings, many years
Of absence, these steep woods and lofty cliffs,
And this green pastoral landscape, were to me

More dear, both for themselves and for thy sake!

**Summary**

The full title of this poem is “Lines Composed a Few Miles above Tintern Abbey, on Revisiting the Banks of the Wye during a Tour. July 13, 1798.” It opens with the speaker’s declaration that five years have passed since he last visited this location, encountered its tranquil, rustic scenery, and heard the murmuring waters of the river. He recites the objects he sees again, and describes their effect upon him: the “steep and lofty cliffs” impress upon him “thoughts of more deep seclusion”; he leans against the dark sycamore tree and looks at the cottage-grounds and the orchard trees, whose fruit is still unripe. He sees the “wreaths of smoke” rising up from cottage chimneys between the trees, and imagines that they might rise from “vagrant dwellers in the houseless woods,” or from the cave of a hermit in the deep forest.

The speaker then describes how his memory of these “beauteous forms” has worked upon him in his absence from them: when he was alone, or in crowded towns and cities, they provided him with “sensations sweet, / Felt in the blood, and felt along the heart.” The memory of the woods and cottages offered “tranquil restoration” to his mind, and even affected him when he was not aware of the memory, influencing his deeds of kindness and love. He further credits the memory of the scene with offering him access to that mental and spiritual state in which the burden of the world is lightened, in which he becomes a “living soul” with a view into “the life of things.” The speaker then says that his belief that the memory of the woods has affected him so strongly may be “vain”—but if it is, he has still turned to the memory often in times of “fretful stir.”

Even in the present moment, the memory of his past experiences in these surroundings floats over his present view of them, and he feels bittersweet joy in reviving them. He thinks happily, too, that his present experience will provide many happy memories for future years. The speaker acknowledges that he is different now from how he was in those long-ago times, when, as a boy, he “bounded o’er the mountains” and through the streams. In those days, he says, nature made up his whole world: waterfalls, mountains, and woods gave shape to his passions, his appetites, and his love.

That time is now past, he says, but he does not mourn it, for though he cannot resume his old relationship with nature, he has been amply compensated by a new set of more mature gifts; for instance, he can now “look on nature, not as in the hour / Of thoughtless youth; but hearing oftentimes / The still, sad music of humanity.” And he can now sense the presence of something far more subtle, powerful, and fundamental in the light of the setting suns, the ocean, the air itself, and even in the mind of man; this energy seems to him “a motion and a spirit that impels / All thinking thoughts.... / And rolls through all things.” For that reason, he says, he still loves nature, still loves mountains and pastures and woods, for they anchor his purest thoughts and guard the heart and soul of his “moral being.”

The speaker says that even if he did not feel this way or understand these things, he would still be in good spirits on this day, for he is in the company of his “dear, dear (d) Sister,” who is also his “dear, dear Friend,” and in whose voice and manner he observes his former

self, and beholds “what I was once.” He offers a prayer to nature that he might continue to do so for a little while, knowing, as he says, that “Nature never did betray / The heart that loved her,” but leads rather “from joy to joy.” Nature’s power over the mind that seeks her out is such that it renders that mind impervious to “evil tongues,” “rash judgments,” and “the sneers of selfish men,” instilling instead a “cheerful faith” that the world is full of blessings. The speaker then encourages the moon to shine upon his sister, and the wind to blow against her, and he says to her that in later years, when she is sad or fearful, the memory of this experience will help to heal her. And if he himself is dead, she can remember the love with which he worshipped nature. In that case, too, she will remember what the woods meant to the speaker, the way in which, after so many years of absence, they became dearer to him—both for themselves and for the fact that she is in them.

Form

“Tintern Abbey” is composed in blank verse, which is a name used to describe unrhymed lines in iambic pentameter. Its style is therefore very fluid and natural; it reads as easily as if it were a prose piece. But of course the poetic structure is tightly constructed; Wordsworth’s slight variations on the stresses of iambic rhythms is remarkable. Lines such as “Here, under this dark sycamore, and view” do not quite conform to the stress-patterns of the meter, but fit into it loosely, helping Wordsworth approximate the sounds of natural speech without grossly breaking his meter. Occasionally, divided lines are used to indicate a kind of paragraph break, when the poet changes subjects or shifts the focus of his discourse.

**Commentary**

The subject of “Tintern Abbey” is memory—specifically, childhood memories of communion with natural beauty. Both generally and specifically, this subject is hugely important in Wordsworth’s work, reappearing in poems as late as the “Intimations of Immortality” ode. “Tintern Abbey” is the young Wordsworth’s first great statement of his principle (great) theme: that the memory of pure communion with nature in childhood works upon the mind even in adulthood, when access to that pure communion has been lost, and that the maturity of mind present in adulthood offers compensation for the loss of that communion—specifically, the ability to “look on nature” and hear “human music”; that is, to see nature with an eye toward its relationship to human life. In his youth, the poet says, he was thoughtless in his unity with the woods and the river; now, five years since his last viewing of the scene, he is no longer thoughtless, but acutely aware of everything the scene has to offer him. Additionally, the presence of his sister gives him a view of himself as he imagines himself to have been as a youth. Happily, he knows that this current experience will provide both of them with future memories, just as his past experience has provided him with the memories that flicker across his present sight as he travels in the woods.

“Tintern Abbey” is a monologue, imaginatively spoken by a single speaker to himself, referencing the specific objects of its imaginary scene, and occasionally addressing others—once the spirit of nature, occasionally the speaker’s sister. The language of the

poem is striking for its simplicity and forthrightness; the young poet is in no way concerned with ostentation. He is instead concerned with speaking from the heart in a plainspoken manner. The poem's imagery is largely confined to the natural world in which he moves, though there are some castings-out for metaphors ranging from the nautical (the memory is "the anchor" of the poet's "purest thought") to the architectural (the mind is a "mansion" of memory).

The poem also has a subtle strain of religious sentiment; though the actual form of the Abbey does not appear in the poem, the idea of the abbey—of a place consecrated to the spirit— suffuses the scene, as though the forest and the fields were themselves the speaker's abbey. This idea is reinforced by the speaker's description of the power he feels in the setting sun and in the mind of man, which consciously links the ideas of God, nature, and the human mind—as they will be linked in Wordsworth's poetry for the rest of his life, from "It is a beauteous evening, calm and free" to the great summation of the Immortality Ode.

Nor perchance,

If I were not thus taught, should I the more Suffer my genial spirits to decay:
For thou art with me here upon the banks

Of this fair river; thou my dearest Friend,

My dear, dear Friend; and in thy voice I catch

The language of my former heart, and read

My former pleasures in the shooting lights Of thy wild eyes. Oh! yet a little while
May I behold in thee what I was once,

My dear, dear Sister! and this prayer I make,

Knowing that Nature never did betray

The heart that loved her; 'tis her privilege,

Through all the years of this our life, to lead

From joy to joy: for she can so inform

The mind that is within us, so impress

With quietness and beauty, and so feed

With lofty thoughts, that neither evil tongues,

Rash judgments, nor the sneers of selfish men,

Nor greetings where no kindness is, nor all

The dreary intercourse of daily life,

Shall e'er prevail against us, or disturb

Our cheerful faith, that all which we behold
Is full of blessings. Therefore let the moon
Shine on thee in thy solitary walk;
And let the misty mountain-winds be free
To blow against thee: and, in after years,
When these wild ecstasies shall be matured
Into a sober pleasure; when thy mind
Shall be a mansion for all lovely forms,
Thy memory be as a dwelling-place
For all sweet sounds and harmonies; oh! then,
If solitude, or fear, or pain, or grief,
Should be thy portion, with what healing thoughts
Of tender joy wilt thou remember me,
And these my exhortations! Nor, perchance—
If I should be where I no more can hear
Thy voice, nor catch from thy wild eyes these gleams
Of past existence—wilt thou then forget
That on the banks of this delightful stream
We stood together; and that I, so long
A worshipper of Nature, hither came
Unwearied in that service: rather say
With warmer love—oh! with far deeper zeal
Of holier love. Nor wilt thou then forget,
That after many wanderings, many years
Of absence, these steep woods and lofty cliffs,
And this green pastoral landscape, were to
More dear, both for themselves and for thy sake!

**5.keat's 'Ode to a Nightingale'** Objectives : ; duce the student to the important themes in Keats's poetry through a study of the Odes To introduce i prescribed for study.

Lesson (a): A critical examination of the odes

Lesson (b): Topics for Discussion, Model Questions, and Books for Reading

Lesson (a):

**Introduction**

John Keats belonged to the younger generation of the writers of the Romantic Revival. The older generation consisted of Wordsworth and Coleridge and the three ello writers of the younger generation were Keats, Shelley, and Byron. Born in 1795, John Keats was the eldest child of his parents. Even as a young man, Keats was influenced by Spenser's Faerie Queene. To support himself and his poor family, Keats joined as an apprentice to a surgeon. The adverse criticisms of The Blackwood and The Quarterly rubbed salt in the wounds of his personal tragedies. Keats suffered the tragedy of being a rejected lover, in addition to Tuberculosis decaying his body. But he has immortalized himself through his odes" Keats passed away in 1821.

**A Critical Summary of 'Ode to a Nightingale'**

Evenasapocet he had no great success. Critics and reviewers of the "Blackwood" and the "Quarterly"

rejected his poetry, out and out. They told him to stop writing poetry and go back to the medical profession with which he was earlier associated.

The poem has eight stanzas, Its rhyme scheme is ababedecde. The Poet hears or imagines he hears the song of a bird, in this case, a nightingale. We all know the nightingale is a singing bird. The poet feels his heart aches. He is neither wakefi] nor sleepy. His senses are pained by drowsiness and numbness-drowsy numbness. He feels as if he had drunk hemlock. In this poem hemlock is a drug that induces sleep. It is like opium that produces dullness and sleep, -a dull opiate. - The poet forgets every thing like the souls of the dead who drink the waters of Lethe. In Greek mythology Lethe is a river in the underworld and its water induces forgetfulness. In Paradise Lost,Milton rightly describes it as the river of oblivion.

The poet does not envy the bird. He forgets his sorrow and feels happy, trying to share the bird's happiness. The bird seems to fly so easily, so effortlessly that it seers to have light wings, 'light-winged'. It is described as a Dryad of the trees- a nymph, an angelic creature that makes the trees, its home. The bird is there in a green plot, filling it with its melodious song. The plot is full of shadows, owing to the many trees, around. The bird sings of warm summer, Summer, as we knowit, is awelcome season in a cold country like England. The bird sings freely and naturally inaloudand clear voice, -in full-throated ease.

The poet now desires a sip of vintage wine, wine that has been preserved for a long time. Wine thus preserved is tasty and cool. It has been preserved deep inside the earth, - the deep-delved earth. Its smell is the smell of many flowers and also the greenery of the countryside. Flora is the goddess of flowers in Roman mythology and so the wine is said

to taste of Flora, The wine he tastes, reminds him ofthe background from which it is born- Provence, the south of France, known for its great poets, its fine arts and song accompanied by dance.

Provenceisa warm place. Itis also known for its great poets called Troubadours. The souty, of France is also known for its grape gardens and the wine produced there. No wonder the poet desire to have a full cup of wine. The cup of wine is personified with bubbles appearing to wink at the brim,

Mischievous, isn't it? He wishes his mouth to be stained in purple with the drink. He wishes to leave the world, unseen. His intention is to meet the bird in its world.

The poet wants to fade into the world where the bird sings. He feels and affirms that the bird hag never experienced the kind of sorrows with which he is troubled. Human beings experience weariness,fever, and fret but the bird is free from the trials and tribulations of men. On this earth, men hear of one another's —— and sufferings. Besides, young people face untimely death. Terrible diseases like

Tuberculosis reduce their physical frames and make them look like ghosts, frighteningly thin, spectre-thin. Keats is conscious of this tragedy, as his brother and he himself are victims of T.B. There is sorrow and suffering, all around. Diseases like palsy hasten the process of aging and death, Human beings face premature old age and later, death, all because of fatal diseases. Keats makes use ofa figure of speech, known in English by the name of transferred epithet which in Greek was originally described as Hypallage, in "a few, sad, last gray hairs'.

We know hairs are no living things and they cannot therefore share human feelings. But here we notice Keats uses the adjective sad" in describing them. Why does he do it? The answer is he simply transfers the sadness of man's heart to his hairs as gil Such a transfer of feelings is known as transferred RUE, in English and Hypallage in Greek. The world where we live is cruel as even beauty is not long-lasting. Keats personifies beauty, but the reference here is to the beauty of the body. A beautiful maiden cannot have beautiful or lustrous eyes, all through her life, because human life is after all, subject to decay. Love, another common human feeling personified by Keats is also subject to chauge. Itis so Because it is not divine love, but love based merely on physical beauty. Such love cannot last long. Today you may love and tomorrow, you may not, if your love is bound by physical charm %

This is so, because time decays physique. The poet realizes that wine may not be able to take him to the world of the nightingale. Bacchus the wine god who is charioted by leopards cannot be his medium as wine is limited in its ability. A better medium is poesy or poetry. Poesy is personified. Poetry has wings, says the poet, but the wings cannot be seen by any one as they are invisible, beyond our view, -'viewless'. Reason and iritellect are the a of the brain. They confuse us and prevent us from

**flying higher. | |**

'Only imagination can help us in achieving such a state. Poetry is a creature of imagination. Itcantake us to worlds beyond.At last with the help of poetic imagination,

Keats succeeds in reaching the world of the nightingale. It is night. In the tender night, the moon is sitting on her throne like a queen. She is surrounded by stars, her fairies, but on earth, there is no light. Whatever there is, is merely filtered through “verdurous glooms and winding mossy ways’.

Now comes a very famous stanza in Keats’s poetry. It is an example of synaesthesia, acombination of one sense with another, a mixing up of sense perceptions. The poet cannot see what flowers are at his feet. He cannot smell the incense on the branches, but even in darkness, he can smell flowers and fruits of all seasons.

Keatshasa good sense of hearing. pe he is able to enjoy the song of the bird even in the dark.

The poet expresses his preference for painless death. He calls upon Jeath softly and poetically with the help of thyme, to remove him from the world. The moment seems to be the best moment for death as there is nothing more pleasant than painless death in this wordt ~to die ‘upon the midni ght with no pain’ with the music of the nightingale in the background. The bird seems to be singing profusely as thought wanted to give an eloquent expression to its soul throughi its: song.

It continues to sing but of what use would it be if he can’t die at such a moment! The song of the nightingale appears to be like a funeral song inviting him to die, but he cannot die and so the eloquentnelody of the bird seems to fall on his ears in vain. He is no better than a piece of clay, a masg of myg

melody of the feels that death cannot claim the nightingale, as the bird is not born for death, as the poet Sys poet feels that d :

We know no nightingale can be immortal. Creatures born on this ia are destined to die. By, the nightingale in the poem isa symbol of the desire of the poet to be free from the bonds, the shackles of time. Like all mortals, the poet is also bound by time. He is also subject to age, decay, and deat, y,i want the bird to be subject to all these. In his view the bird stands for something or someqpe who can be really free from all these limitations as an individual - the limitations of time and space being no exception. The bird represents a dimensionless universe whereas the poet is a slave to time and place. The song of the nightingale is symbolic of undying music. The charm of music lasts and lasts. In this sense, the bird is immortal. Generation after generation greeted the song of the nightingale with joy. It may not be the same nightingale, but generations of nightingales delighted generations of human beings. The voice of the nightingale delighted everyone without considerations of class or race, oreven time.

It was heard by emperor and clown alike, in ancient times. The song of the bird consoled Ruth,a character in biblical mythology when Ruth, sick for home, stood in tears in a foreign land. The song worked like a spell in stories like medieval romances, where it opened windows in “fairy lands forlom’ in the middle of vast oceans probably to some damsel in distress, imprisoned in a tower by some magician.The word “forlom' puts an end to the magic of Keats's imagination like a bell at the end of some charming or captivating event. He is surprised that fancy could cheat him so well, contrary to his Some passages for discussion from ‘Ode to a Nightingale’:

1. Tasting of Flora and the country green,

   Dance, and Provencal song, and sunburnt mirth!.

   Impressed with the melodious song ofthe nightingale, Keats wants to visit the domain of the bird.

   The bird being an acrial creature flies, and the poet can catch up with the bird if only he can fly.
   The post therefore has to think of a medium which can transport him to the higher regions effort] essly reached by the bird. He begins his attempt by considering a hot drink like wine as his medium. But the wine to be of good quality. The warm southern part of France known as Provence comes to his mind. quickly. Besides, to be good, the wine requires to be preserved for a considerably long time, making it a vintage wine. Such wine coming from the warm southern part of France suggests to the mind of the poet the lovely background of Provence full of beautiful gardens, Goddess Flora, the goddess of flowers in classical mythology, naturally comes to his mind. The green Sountiysida and the beautiful flowers seem to add their flavour to the wine, The fine arts like dance and music along with poetry for which Provence is well-known are at once remembered by the poet. The poets called Troubadours used to adorn Southern France of the middle ages. The poet is also naturally reminded of the warm weather there, which anyone from a cold country soil have preferred for variety.

2. Where Beauty cannot keep her lustrous eyes, ,

   Or new love pine at them beyond tomorrow.

   The song of the nightingale sets the poet, thinking. He realizes that the nightingale is completely

   free from the sorrows and sufferings of the humans. The woods liane the bird wanders do not trouble the bird in the least. People on earth are tired, discased, or worried by turns or in combination, but the bird is trouble-free. Diseases on our planet produce decay and degeneration, leading ultimately to death. There are many premature deaths, inflicted by dreaded diseases. Young men become paleand look like ghosts while they are still alive. There is more sorrow than joy in human thought as the poet feels. Beauty personified by the poet. is described as incapable of remaining iritact. Beauty cannot keep her eyes lustrous or charming even for two days. Evenlovers are merel y ied by ohysical chins, Love based on such assing qualities cannot endure or live beyond a day. as they are quickly lost in the sands of time:

3. Away! Away! for I will fly to thee,

   Not charioted by Bacchus and his pards,

   But on the viewless wings of Poesy...

   The poet, whois rroubled by the sorrows on earth. wants tw establish a rapport with the bird as' he feels that the bird i¢ free from earthly sorrows. He selects wine as a medium for the same g fing feels that the bt : :

Soon h he realizes that he must select a better medium. So he rejects the help of wine and Wangs

SOON however ne nt to take the help of poetry instead. Bacchus the wine god and the leopards which act as his Mode of conveyance are no match to his requirement and poetry which is powered by wings of Imaginatjqy, which cannot be noticed by any, is preferred. . 4. Charmed magic casements, opening on the, foam of periloss seas, in faery lands Jorlor.

The song of the nightingale has inspired generations of human beings irrespective of their Class. It has delighted the emperor and the clown, alike. Even mythological characters are consoled by it. The same song served as a charm in middle ages to open the windows of a tower in which a princess might have been imprisoned. Thus the nightingale's song has endeared itselfto all sections of saciety, relevant to all times.

5. Fled is that music - do I wake or sleep?

The poet seemed to have lingered very long indeed in a world of imagination, a world of makebelieve. transported by the song of the nightingale. But the spell is at last broken, and the poet is faced -with the grim reality of life as it is lived on earth, The vision fades, leaving Hitt AY the sock bolo of reality. The poet realizes that he was day-dreaming. dreaming while he was awake. His dream world is shattered, and he is exposed to the inevitable. Some passages for explanation from 'Ode ona Grecian Urn':

1. Heard melodies are sweet, buf those unheard.

Are sweeter...

Being a Romantic writer S tives : :

Keats gives greater mportance to things we may not be able 0 come

across in real life. Imagination of a hi " i

2 nofahigh order ig yjye strength of Romantic writers. Thus. while accept" the melodies of known songs, the poet lovE loves to ue ter guess that songs unknown and unheard may be b€ Any way, who knows!
2. All human breathing human passion Sar above,

That leaves a heart high high-sorrowful and cloy'd.

A burning forehead and a parching tongue.

The characters depicted on the um, be they singers or lovers, do not suffer from the adverse

effects of time, as they are merely portraits and are no living creatures in flesh and blood. They are not troubled by passions that might lead the human beings into a highly sorrowful situation, agitating their brain or making them thirsty under mental pressure. This is why Keats chooses paintings that are neutral to the ups and downs of life.

3. 'Beauty is truth, truth beauty,'-that is all

Ye know on earth,and all ye need to know on earth. Keats contliges his ode on the Grecian umn with these lines. Beauty that can survive mere physical damages is true beauty.Such a beauty might be the work of God, as it can not be the mere handiwork of ordinary human beings. Beauty that can survive disadvantages of nature is as good as eternal truth. On the other hand, truth that can stand the test of time is an object of ret: beauty. Thus the equation of truth with beauty seems to hold good in the case of Keats.

**Lesson(b):**

Topics for discussion Keats and Escapism

The charge of escapism is levelled against Keats, based mainly upon his "Ode to ANightingale".

Tuberculosis was his dreaded enemy as it claimed his brother's life and ultimately his own. The E—of Keats may be described as threefold , "Tuberculosis afflicting him and his brother, the criticism of"The Blackwood" and "The Quarterly", and his love being rejected, all three being one worse than the other,

The reviewers of "The Blackwood" and "The Quarterly" found fault with Keats's poetry and told him cruelly to go back to pills, plasters and ointments, his profession at that time, Asensity, could not but be troubled, although many argue that the reviewers could not trouble him in the joy Te more serious of course is his failure in love. Rejected by his darling, Keats was shaken to the epthyoy- his being, Ths compounded his personal sorrows.

As Keats is a romantic writer, itis often felt that his sorrows found a way into hj poetry Poetry isnot substitute autobiography but then it cannot be total ly free from one's experiences inlife,

Keats was no exception. "The Ode toa Nightingale' is often taken up for such an argument, Herp,find the dreaming poet trying to forget the sorrow and suffering on earth, although fora brief spell. After all, the poet iia knows these sorrows and sufferings are common to all human beings living on The poet tries to identify himself with the nightingale, as it is free from the sorrows and sufferings he faces and confronts on earth. The fatal disease that confronts him and his brothers makes his thinking full of sorrow ("where but to think is full of sorrow'). The nightingale with its melodious song delighted,encouraged and inspired many men and women, Besides, it is quite democratic, as emperor and condalike are entertained byit.

Timeisa villain in human life, but the nightingale is the chosen hero of the poet as it defies the barriers of time, It attains immortality through its melodious song which gives I PRIANEGE, a permanence which human beings do not have, The bird i is described as immortal ('thoy wast not bom for death, immortal bird"), The poet wants to reach the bird's world, but fails as thebir belongs to adifferent order of things, The poet ends no better than where he begins —he begins in sorrow and ends in doubt,Keats however, is no escapist as he travels beyond 'Ode to a Nightingale'. In-Odeona Greci"Urn', he tries toarrest time on the um, to contro) 5 least temporarily, time through art, passes Of ch state of compromise in the Melancholy ode where delight and sorrow are depicted astwo sides of Ld complete acceptance of and reconciliation with ype realities af fife Gensuousness foralife of

sensations rather than of thoughts', says Keats in one of his - letters to Bailey. The jetters of Keats are full of the literary theory of Keats.Sensuousness may be defined as the perception of life through the five senses of sight, touch,smell, taste, and hearing. Critics differed widely on the utility of WA to the poetry of Keats,but as Keats makes use of sensuous perception only to strengthen or fortify his powers of imagination,itis a useful addition to his technique. MacNeice the poet-critic, described him as a sensuous mystic as Keats makes use of his sensuous perception fora higher end or purpose, namely to build a philosophy of life.

'The poet creates the required impression or effect through the senses. The 'Ode to aNi ghtingale'isa good example of Keats's sensuousness, The ode is both sensuous and nostalgic. Some critics compare Keats to poets like Marlowe and Tennyson. Keats is described as a sensuous mystic, amystic, through the medium of senses. In the first stanza, we are greeted with the song of the nightingale that appeals to our ears. In the second stanza, we have the combination of touch and tasie. The drink touches the lips and stains the mouth. The sun touches the bodies of people in the Southern part of France, making them happy.

The wine's taste makes us remember the beautiful scenery of the countryside of Southern France where it is prepared. Our sense of hearing is gratified by the nightingale, which is said to sing in "full-throated ease'. On the other hand. we have a 'melodious plot of beechen green', delighting the sight. The sense of touch and sight are combined as in *with beaded bubbles winking at the brim. And purplestained mouth'. Synaesthesia or the blending of an appeal to more than one sense at a time occurs in the fifth stanza of "The Ode toa Nightingale'. The poet guesses the presence of a wide variety of flowers through smell, but when he guesses these flowers, the colour and complexion of these flowers present themselves before his mental eye. serving as a substitute to mere phy sical sight. Thus sight. smell. and hearing are united to bring in. a picturesque scenario.David Masson is of the view that the most obyious characteristic of Keats's Poetry is sensuousness, Some critics condemned Keats for his sensuousness, while others praised him fo; the same. Keats makes use of the senses to fortify his imagination and vision. In his "The Romantic Poety» Graham Hough points out that Keats defies the vision he desires through the imagery of the Senses Negative capability '

The letters of Keats give a clue to his literary theory. The concept of 'Negative capability' finds its first mention in a letter hehe by Keats to George Thomas. In this letter, written in the year 1817, the poet Gonsiles the case of Shakespeare and concludes that the latter had this in abundance and hence he became a great writer. This quality surfaces according to Keats, 'when man is capable of being in uncertainties, mysteries, doubts, without any irritable after fact and reason..." In a letter to Richard Woodhouse, Keats observed, 'As to the poetical character itself, ...it is not itself-it has no self – it is everything and nothing-it has no character - it enjoys light and shade - it lives in gusto..

A poetis the most unpoetical of anything in existence, because he has no identity: he is continually infor(ming), and filling some other Body... he is certainly the most unpoetical ofall God's creatures'. It is no wonder therefore that Keats could tell Autumn personified that though the songs of spring are no longer there, she has her own music.Keats and Hellenism"Hellenism means a love of Greek art and culture. Everything Greek, appealed to

Keats. The Greek myths and themes provided adequate inspiration to Romantic writers like Shelley and Keats: Shelley took up the Prometheus theme for advocating liberty and democratic ideals. His *“Promethev Unbound” is a clarion call for liberty.

Keats was called a Greek in spirit. Though he was a Romantic writer, he had a great love ofGreek art, literature and culture, He was also attracted by Greek sculpture. Having visited the British Museum, where he observed and studied the Elgin marbles, Keats came to write “The Ode On? Grecian Um’.

Keats had also a great love of Greek literature. The Greek myths captured his imagination. The themes of many of his poems are based on Greek myths. His ‘Endymion’, ‘Hyperion’, and ‘Lamia’ are an ample testimony to this habit of Keats,

The Greeks adored beauty and wrote passionately on the theme of love. The identification of beauty and truth in Greek thought inspired Keats to do no less. “The Ode On a Grecian Urn’ is thus inspired by the poet’s love of the Greek spirit. References to Bacchus and Dryad in the ‘Ode to a Nightingale’, prove this. The un in Keats’s ode is Grecian, as the poem derives ts inspiration from the poet’s visit to the Elgin marbles. ‘Ode to Psyche’ is yet another poem where the myth of Psyche is employed by Keats. The Greeks saw nature as a kind of spirit and personified it. Keats similarly personifies his ode of that name.

Some critics therefore describe Keats as a Greek. In addition to Elgin marbles, which Keats saw in the British museum, other important sources were Chapman’s translation of Homer and classical dictionary of Lampriere. In his ‘Romantic Imagination’ C.M Bowra points out that Keats Grecian Umis based on a marble vase of ‘Sosibios’ the Greek sculptor, Cleanth Brooks notices in the poem the classification of the Greek thought into Apollonian and Dionysian elements. The story of Psyche in the ‘Ode to Psyche’ is based on a story in “The Golden Ass” of Apuleius.Beauty is truth, truth beauty: |
Many examinations of the de concentrated on the last lines of the poem, but instead of givingaclue to the meaning of the poem, they have landed them into more confusion. Even a perceptive critial like T.S Eliot wrote that it strikes him like ‘a serious blemish ona beautiful poem, and the reason must be either that I fail to understand it, or that itis a statement which is untrue’. Another critic remarks that '0 Keats, beauty was not the very essence and heart of life, but its adornment.Some see a contradiction in the statement, as they feel what is said in the earlier stanza does not agree with the statement about beauty and truth. Imagination gives the beauty depicted on the um quality that we may not see in real life. Thus the beauty represented on the urn presents.an ideal to be pursued. In his ‘Endymion’, Keats observes,” A thing of beauty is ajoy for ever’. Elsewhere jp, remarks, ‘what the i aeiation seizes as beauty must be truth’. Yet another critic, Arthur Symons State that the statement about beauty and truth is not personal to

Keats alone and that it was never doubteg even by Coleridge and that it ‘characterises Wordsworth’s poetry whenever it is poetry and not prose’, Matthew Amold praises Keats for being able to accomplish so much in poetry ‘by virtue of his feeling for beauty with truth’.

Model questions

1. It has often been said that Keats is an escapist-Do you agree?
2. How does Keats make his poetry sensuous?

   Or O fora life of sensations ilies than of thoughts' "How does the statement apply to thepoetry of Keats? |
3. 'Beauty is truth, truth beauty," - Can you justify the statement?
4. How does the ode on the Grecian urn represent the evolution of thought in the poetry of Keats?

Books for further reading:

- C.M.Bowra : The Romantic Imagination
- Graham Hough The Romantic Poets
- Sidney Colvin 2 Keats
- C.H.Herford : The Age of Wordsworth

**Keats—A Brief Biographical Sketch**

Birth; Schooling; and the Deaths of Parents

John Keats was born on October 31, 1795. He was the eldest of the five children of a stable-keeper. He went to school at Enfield, and found a friend in Charles Cowden Clarke, son of the schoolmaster. He was remembered by his fellows for generosity, pugnacity, and a passion for reading. He lost his father by a riding accident in 1804, and his mother in 1810.

From Apprenticeship as a Surgeon to Poetry

In 1811, John Keats became an apprentice to a surgeon at Edmonton. During 1815-17, he continued his studies at the London hospitals but his heart was not in medicine and he felt that he was born to bea poet. Finally, he abandoned surgery for literature. Under the influence of Leigh Hunt and with literary life. Through the the help of Clarke, Keats now settled down to a The Examiner. But kindness of Hunt, several sonnets by Keats appeared in, his Poems, 1817, which, with all their immaturities, included the well-known sonnet On First Looking into Chapman's Homer, did not attract much m Endymion, attention. If was followed im 1818-by tlre Tong narrative poe which received warm praise from his friends but was attacked savagely by stile reviews

The Quarterly Review and Blackwood's Magazine. The ho pinion of some critics, hastened his deeply wounded the poet and, in the death. (For instance, Byron remarked that Keats was "snuffed out by an article".) But in fact, Keats was a man of great courage and, instead of being h his work with the idea of crushed by adverse criticism, he went on wit 1 thew Arnold says, producing poetry that the world should not let die. As Mat him. Endymion is romantic in subject, treatment Keats had "flint and iron" in and language.

It contains an extravagant wealth of imagery and suffers from an excess of unnecessary details. But it also contains some remarkable passages of great beauty and charm.The Tragic Death of His Brother; and Disappointment in Love The wretched circumstances of

Keats's life make pathetic reading. Exposure during a walking tour in Scotland and the strain of nursing his brother Tom, who died in December, 1818, brought about a breakdown in his health. He felt very depressed and downcast. To aggravate his misery, he fell passionately in love with a girl called Fanny Brawne who did not respond to his love. The bitterness of this disappointment weighed heavily upon his already drooping spirits and broken health. According to some biographers, she had agreed to marry him but he could not marry her on account of his poverty and growing illness.

**JOHN KEATS |**

1820.2 published only one more volume, Hperian and Other Poems, Ms volume contains his great contributions to. literature: (he fragmentary Hyperion The Eve of St. Agnes, the splendid odes To Autumn, Ty a Nightingale On Melancholy. and On a Grecian Urn; and the ballad, Lg Belle Dame Suns Merci. All these arc precious treasures of English poetry: Shelley was so impressed by (he beauty and promise of Hyperion that he sen a generous i to Keats to come Lo Pisa and live with him; but Keats declined the invitation as he had little sympathy with Shelley's social and political views.

His Premature Death Due to Keats had secn a premature d by consumption which ran In the his brother Tom. His fear of deat Tuberculoses cath because he had always felt threatened family and which had already carried off h finds expression in his sonnet, "When I e", and elsewhere. He was now definitel he ee hiss in d cease plion As a lost hope, in September 1820 known to be an gs friend Joseph Severn, he left England for Italy. At ei Hie his last sonnet, "Bright Star, would I were steadfast as Lulworth he died in Rome on February 23, 1821, and was buried in the old Covey ee near the Pyramid of Caius Cestius. Conscious to the last, Pr ded by rt devotion by Severn, he chose his own epitaph: "Here lies one whose name was writ in water". You most germinal poets, and left a deep mark on English literature. In Memory of Keats it :

The first memorial to Keats was unveiled in the parish church of

Hampstead on July 16, 1894, a bust sculptured by a Boston lady and In 1909, the house in which Keats died was opened presented by Americans. In lous | as a Keats-Shelley memorial. In connection with centenary celebrations a movement was started which in 1925 acquired Lawn Bank, formerly Wentworth Place, Hampstead, where Keats lived during 1817-20, as a home for the Dilke collection of relics. There the poet is said to have heard the nightingale of his famous ode. The Keats Museum was opened in 1931.

The Wretchedness of the Circumstances of His Life

Referring to the circumstances of Keats's life, J.W. Beach writes: "There was, to begin with, the somewhat low life background of the livery-stable where his father worked. There was the want of refinement in his mother's character and the early death of both parents; the uncongenial profession of medicine to which he was apprenticed, the vulgar companionship of young hospital attendants; the sickness and death of his brother Tom, whom he nursed during the three months of his decline; his own illness and his somewhat neurotic disposition; his unhappy infatuation with Fanny Brawne; the ugly, confining streets of London; and a general social tonc and atmosphere that made him what critics called a 'Cockney' poet. It all must have added up to something from which his soul ardently craved relief." ng as he died, he was one of the Keats's Principal Poetic Works

His Juvenile Verse poems (1817). A small collection of juvenile verse. Some of the p ined ocms are:

(1) Imitation of Spenser

(2) On Death

(3) To Hope

(4) Stood Tiptoe

(5) On First Looking into Chapman's Homer. This is his firs poem and one of the greatest sonnets in English.

(6) Sleep and Poetry. It contains Keats's foreshadows his development.

'Endymion (1818)

"A Poetic Romance (1818). The main idea her beauty: how the poet longs for full communion with the essential spirit of Beauty and how through the exercise of active human ina achieves his quest. The poem opens with the famous line: "A thing of beauty is a joy for ever." great poetical philosophy and - e is the quest for ideal

Lamia, Isabella, The Eve of St. Agnes and Other Poems (1820)

(1) Isabella. A tragic narrative poem.

(2) Hyperion. A fragment in blank verse. The poem is monumental in scene and character-delineation, sustained in passion, sublime in emotional effect. It is modelled on Milton's Paradise Lost.

3) Ode To Fancy

(4) The Eve of St. Agnes. A highly coloured and romantic love-story.

(5) Ode To Psyche. T.S. Eliot thinks it Keats's best ode.

(6) Ode On a Grecian Urn. It contrasts the permanence of art with the transitoriness of human life, and is famous for its line, "Beauty is

Truth, Truth Beauty".

* (7) Ode On Melancholy. It deals with the nature of true Melancholy. (8) Ode To a Nightingale. This is in part a song of death and in part a song of despair. It contains a premonition of his premature death. It

1s not faultless, yet it is often recognised as his best poem. It has "opulent imagery, languorous melancholy, restrained emotion".

The two lines about "charm'd magic Cae in the English essence of romance more than any other two language. RIEDY : | heroic coup e

9) Lamia. This is one of his best narrative pra Corinthian. is the story of a serpent-woman who loves ay is b ounty, its

(10) To Autumn. A perfect description of tively. occupations, and its sounds, treated most obj lad that has become

(11) La Belle Dame Sans Merci. A medieval ba famous.

Sonnets. Among these is,: nnet .

Keats wrote quite a number of successful so hecy of his early i ro When I have fears that | may cease to be which is a prop death in Shakespearean form.
Other Poems

The Eve of St. Mark. An incomplete medieval poem.

The Fall of Hyperion. A Dream. The poet's intention here was to express the ideals of humanitarianism, But the poem is not complete. It gives rise to the thought that if Keats had lived longer, he would have equalled Shakespeare in the grandeur of themes as well as words, Otho. A poetic drama, od 3
Some Critical Observations

**About Keats as a Poet**

**His Originality as a Poet**

Among the formative influences in Keats's work, Spenser stands first; but Chaucer and Milton influenced, only in a secondary degree, his poetic style and vocabulary; and lesser poets like Chapman, William Browne, and his friend Leigh Hunt affected him especially in his earlier work, in his choice of words and phrases, and in his search for colour. But the finest part of Keats's work owes nothing to a derivative' source. In the fragmentary Ode To Maia, with its purity of phrase and chastened beauty, there are no echoes, no obligations:

O, give me their old vigour, and unheard

Save of the quiet primrose, and the span

Of heaven, and few ears,

Rounded by thee, my song should die away

Content as theirs,

Rich in the simple worship of a day.

Concerned with Sensations Rather Than with Ideas

Perhaps his most notable divergence as a poet, from his contemporary. Shelley, is that he elects, as a rule, to deal with sensations rather than with ideas, with concrete life than with abstract imaginings. The metaphysical power, that charges with intellectual fire the visions of Shelley, is outside of his scope. Not that he eschews ideas; the Odes eloquently refute such a suggestion; but when he elects to deal with ideas, he chooses such human things as love, sorrow and beauty, and presents them in concrete shape:
The moving waters at their priest-like task

Of pure ablution round earth's human shores. (it) She cannot fade, though thou hast not thy bliss For ever wilt thou love, and she be fair.

Thus do his ideas become incarnate with the shaping splendour of the consummate artist; and thus does he help us to realise, as no other poet | has done since Shakespeare, the oneness of Truth and Beauty. :
His Poetic Faith: Beauty is Truth, Truth Beauty

Keats once wrote, 'I have loved the principle of beauty in all things'.

This principle came to him through three main channels: through external

**JOHN KEAT**

Nature, Which he paints : Chness of thought wl Shakespearean felicity; through the luxuriant eur i In Elizabethan poets and playwrights; and through rst % Sireck art. If judged by quantity, he cannot claim a died gat twenty-five: nx, though no other poet would stand higher if he had | greatest im 13 Ive; but if judged by quality, Keats must rank with the b that he ds ders and creators of verse. The essential mark of his genius is nl es th ideals of old Greece and modern romanticism. His poetic faith is summe i d up in the close of the Ode On a Grecian Urn. The Magic of His Use of Words

I Keats was the most literary of great poets in his day in the sense that he | used his words with a keen awareness of the magic they had held for his il predecessors. He was also the poet for whom the world of beauty was an
1 asylum, an escape from the dreary and painful effects of ordinary experience. The beauties he has to offer are drawn, by selection, from familiar native scenery, and they have great appeal for poetry lovers of all kinds.
His Felicities of Word and Phrase

Keats's felicities of phrase and his sensitive insight into Nature are already seen in / Stood Tiptoe:
Here are sweet peas, on tip-toe for a flight:

With wings of gentle flush o'er delicate white,

And taper fingers catching at all things, To bind them all about with tiny rings.
His Challenge to Neo-Classic Poets

In Sleep and Poetry, the writer throws a challenge at the whole army of the neo-classical critics. In Endymion, Keats's art is still immature, but shows a great advance. The narrative is confused, the allegory is dim, but there are many passages of exquisite verse, wonderful gleams of landscape, fine philosophic ideals. While Keats was under the spell of Hunt in the Poems of 1817, the predominant influcnces now are Spenser, Wordsworth and Shakespeare. His best work at this time, particularly the great Ode To Sorrow, fl has a vigorous morning freshness hardly to be found again in him. He does i write about Sorrow, but there is no real sadness in this ode which is an outpouring of the joy of life. "It is a picture glowing with colour, instinct with animation—the-work of a. young bold mind which has neither regret for the 'past nor fear for the future."

**A Very Careful Artist**

Keats was a very careful artist. He revised and remodelled his poems and took the utmost pains in polishing them. He uses the choicest and most appropriate diction. There are many jewelled phrases in his poems. A beautiful phrase delighted him with a sense of intoxication. The extraordinary appeal of Keats's poetry depends not only on his rich
SOME CRITICAL OBSERVATIONS ABOUT KEATS AS A POET

Sensuousness, his lush imagery, and the passionate exaltation of his feel; 5 put also on his gift of phrase. The beauty of his phrases, the sable rhythm in the combination of words and their evocative power compl ne imagination of the reader to the mood which the poet seeks to produc ta dhe reader. In some cases, this effect is achieved by the use of the sim lest. pals as in the concluding lines of the sonnet, On First Looking into Cha as Homer, where the reaction of the sailors of Cortez to the discovery of. fh Pacific is visualised:
and all his men

Look'd at each other with a wild surmise— Silent, upon a peak in Darien...

The same is true of the wonderfully cadenced lines describing the song of the nightingale:
The same that oft times hath

Charm'd magic casements, opening on the foam Of perilous seas, in faerylands forlorn.
In other cases, there is a very skilful and intricate use of figurative expressions and epithets:
When I behold, upon night's starr'd face,

Huge cloudy symbols of a high romance...and:

Thou still unravished bride of quietness, Thou foster-child of silence and slow time,
Sylvan historian...

In each of these cases, the meaning is enriched by a number of emotional associations and by an appeal to the imagination.
The Sheer Music of His Verse

Keats excels, too, in the quality of sheer music. This quality appears even in his early works; the Hymn to Apollo, for instance, moves with a springing vigour and a fulness of tone. In the great Odes, we find musical effects that are unsurpassed in English lyric poetry. To a Nightingale, On a Grecian Urn, To Psyche, and To Autumn are a series of rich and melancholy strains like those that a great master obtains from the varying forces of an orchestra—raging now high now low, from unearthly sweetness to solemn undertones.
His Influence on Other Poets

Keats's influence on the poets who came after him was operative in two ways. First, he influenced the subject-matter of poetry in arousing In other writers the poetic love of Nature for her own sake, and the love both of classic fable and of romance. Secondly, he set before poets a certain standard of ft of a subject with ore". He execution, and an example of "loading every rift of a :
endeavoured after a continual poetic richness and felicity of phrase. A typical

Example is to be found in the lines that tell us of the trembling hopes of

Madeline in The Eve of $1. Agnes: But to her heart her heart was YohiE Paining wi her balmy side. I. aining with eloquence y sound; it is the The beauty of these lines is not merely a beauty of eg On bya, Garefil beauty which dwells in truth only, every i erfection the quality exercise of the imagination. “The first linc describes in p + ac iis realise second m of consciousness in such a moment of suspense, fee ee “nd the spell of her at once the physical effect of the emotion of the heroine, imagined presence on ourselves.”

The Poets Who Fell Under His Influence The first considerable writer among i d roman example took effect was Hood in the fairy and rc time. Tennyson was profoundly influenced by it both in the form and the matter of his work, and is indeed the heir of Keats and of Wordswor, in almost equal measure. After or together with Coleridge, eats - 250 contributed most to the poetic method and ideal of Rossetti. He fm , ali : by gifts and training, a true child of the Elizabethans, stands in the mos direct line of descent between the great poets of that age and those of subsequent times. Keats's successors on whom his ce poems of his earlier Cazamian’s View of Him as a Poet “Keats, when he died, gave promise of becoming of greatest poet of his generation; and one who, better than any other, would have united the free inspiration of romanticism with the formal principle of the schools of the past. Some hundreds of lines raise him to the level of the highest. His influence has never ceased to grow; all those schools which claim as their principles a plastic notion of art have seen in him their master; the Pre- Raphaclites, just as the English aesthetes, originate in part from him. Despite the concentrated and difficult quality of his language, the finer artists, in every nation, have felt the magnetic power of his example.”

W.H. Hudson’s View of Him

, SOME CRITICAL OBSERVATIONS ABOUT KEATS AS A POET

He seems to stand definitely at the end of his age. Finally, his influence w none the less very strong upon the poets of the succeeding generation.” Some Observations by Douglas Bush Here are some observations by Douglas Bush: Keats's attack on Augustan verse in Sleep and Poetry carried echoes of Wordsworth and Hazlitt. In the same poem the young poet’s view of his present and future recalls the stages of Wordsworth’s development outlined in Tintern Abbe put with characteristic differences. The rock and cataract of Wordiviorts youthful passion become in Keats the realm of Flora and old Pan; and, while Wordsworth had already arrived at his third stage, of human sympathy the young Keats felt that he must force himself to leave the sensuous luxuries of Nature for “the agonies, the strife/Of human hearts”. A similar sequence is described in the letter (May 3, 1818) on the mansions of life in poetry, where Tintern Abbey is cited. Shakespeare, Keats finds is the supreme example of “negative capability”, and Keats would have him as his tutelary genius. But he is also powerfully drawn to Milton and Wordsworth. While Keats is the finer artist, Wordsworth has seen further into the human heart, into common and tragic experience. On the other hand, Keats dislikes at times , Wordsworth’s poetry because it has “a palpable design upon us”.

The Heart’s Affections; and the Importance of the Imagination

Keats’s desire for “a life of sensations rather than of thoughts” is a plea for the intuitive life of the artist. In the same letter (November 22, 1817), written when Endymion was finished, Keats gives his first clear statement on life and poetry: “I am certain of nothing but of the

holiness of the Heart's affections and the truth of Imagination. What the Imagination seizes as Beauty must be truth—whether it existed before or not—for I have the same idea of all our Passions as of Love; they are all in their sublime, creative of essential beauty."
Poetry Versus Humanitarian Action Yet the proclaimer of such a creed is deeply troubled, in his last long poem, The Fall of Hyperion, by the question whether poetry is a justifiable activity, as compared with simple goodness and humanitarian action.

**His Tribute to Medievalism**

There are several poems that are relatively lacking in "ideas". Isabella (1818), though it has some fine bits, is as a whole a tissue of romantic pathos that has long been popular with school-girls. The Eve of St. Agnes (1819) PH incomparably better, so rich in pictorial and verbal beauty that we are on ; to forget the romantic thinness of the human emotions. La Belle i pi Merci, whether or not it has any personal character, may be cal : sic anti-romantic reply to The Eve of St. Agnes and a piece of of old ballads,
The disastrous love of a faery for a mortal had beer a Lid With these but this blend of love and beauty and evil is closer to Christabel. & JUIN BREALY .ic distinguished by it
poems, and the unfinished The Eve of St. Mark, which 1 je y its precise, restrained detail, Keats paid his tribute to medieV
1 of Hyperion almost The Nature and Problems of a Poet v's Homer to The Fal (From the sonnet on Chapman's H , all of his major and many minor poems deal with the na the poet. That in itself is a remarkable fact.) ture and problems of
His Rank as a Poet co tilive " ote is immature

As a poet, Keats ranks with the highs Lo aro—the verse So and inferior certainly; but the gold left after si de and durable— A i ence so WI noble alike in spirit and in form—and the influ e Byron or that he takes his stand with Wordsworth and i ere
Coleridge." Matthew Arnold said of Keat

"Hel

All His Great Poetry, Written During Three Years ei Site

It is believed that if Keats had lived ich : promise. William J. Shakespearean height in poetry. His pos) vas published in thea hen only twenty-five

Long writes: When we remem died Ww

short years, from 1817 to 1820, and that he promising figure of the carly him, he 1s : ; him to be the mo years' old, we must judge him him by work actually done b He greatly nineteenth century. But even judging : :
a poet of no mean order. Like Spenscr, he 1s a poets' poet. influenced Tennyson, Rossetti, Morris, and Swinburne.
His Enrichment of the Romantic Movement in Poetry

"Keats's work was bitterly and unjustly condemned by the critics of his day. He belonged to what was derisively called the Cockney school of poetry. Not even from Wordsworth and Byron, who were ready enough to

recommend far less gifted writers, did Keats receive the slightest encouragement. Shelley, with his sincerity and generosity, was the first to recognise the young genius and in his noble Adonais he spoke the first true word of appreciation, and placed Keats, where he unquestionably belongs, among our greatest poets. The fame denied him in his sad life was granted freely after his death. Most fitly does he close the list of poets of the romantic revival, because in many respects he is the best workman of them all. He seems to have studied words more carefully than did his contemporaries, and so his poetic expression or the harmony of word and thought, is generally more perfect than theirs. More than any other he lived for poetry, as the noblest of the arts. More than any other he emphasised beauty, because to him beauty and truth were one and inseparable. And he enriched the whole romantic movement by adding to its interest in common life, the spirit rather than the letter of the classics and of Elizabethan poetry."

The Most Shakespearean of All Poets

Sh 2 power, as well as by temperament and aim, he was the most akespearean spirit that lived after Shakespeare. In his premature death

OME CRITICAL OBSERVATIONS ABOUT KEATS AS A POET

english literature sustained its greatest loss. In the work actual : aster-chord of humanity had not been fully struck, When eby him, our minds the total effect of his poetry, we can think, indeed, of the ath of Isabella, but of that alone, as equally powerful in its kind with the Nat x magic of the Hymn to Pan and the Ode To a Nightingale, with the Blo of romance colour in St. Agnes' Eve, the weirdness of romance sentiment in Lg Belle Dame Sans Merci, the conflict of elemental force with fate jn Hyperion the revelation of the soul of ancient life and art in the Ode On 4 Grecian Urn and the fragment of an Ode to Maia."

—(Sidney Colvin)

The View of Robert Bridges About His Work as a Poet )

"To speculate upon the unrealised possibility of his genius would indeed be waste of time. But when we note the immense development shown in the few years of his activity, and further remember that, as his letters prove, his mind was ripening rapidly at the end, we cannot but recognise the greatness of the loss which literature sustained in his untimely death. 'If one English poet might be recalled today from the dead to continue the work which he left unfinished on earth, it is probable that the crown of his country's desire would be set on the head of John Keats'—(Robert Bridges). Even as it is, through his direct influence on Tennyson, Swinburne, Rossetti, and Morris, he has left a deep mark on the later English poetry."

VIL ODE TO AUTUMN

I Season of mists and mellow fruitfulness !

Close bosom friend of the maturing sun;

- Conspiring with him how to load and bless

With fruit the vines that round the thatch-eves run;

To bend with apples the moss'd cottage-trees,

And fill all fruit with ripeness to the core;

To swell the gourd, and plump the hazel shells

With a sweet kernel; to set budding more,

And still more, later flowers for the bees, Until they think warm days will never cease, For Summer has o’er-brimm’d their clammy cells.

II

Who hath not seen thee oft amid thy store ?

Sometimes whoever seeks abroad may find

Thee sitting careless on a granary tloor,

Thy hair soft-lifted by the winnowing wind;

Or on a half-reap’d furrow sound asleep,

ODE TO AUTUMN

~Drowsed with the fume of poppies, while thy hook.

Spares the next swath and all its twined flowers;

And sometimes like a gleaner thou dost keep

Steady thy laden head across a brook;

‘Or by cider-press, with patient look,

Thou watchest the last oozings, hour by hour.

111

_ Where are the songs of Spring ? Ay, where are they ?

_ Think not of them, thou hast thy music too,

While barred clouds bloom the soft-dying day,

And touch the stubble-plains with rosy hue;

Then in a wailful choir the small gnats mourn

Among the river sallows, borne aloft

Or sinking as the light wind lives or dies;

And full-grown lambs loud bleat from hilly bourn;

Hedge-crickets sing; and now with treble soft

The red-breast whistles from a garden-croft,

And gathering swallows twitter in the skies.

1. INTRODUCTION

THe Striking Beauty of Autumn This poem was written by Keats in September, struck by the beauty of temperate sharpness about it. The weather seemed fields looked better than they did beauty of the weather that he recorded his mood in the

One of Keats's Finest Poems

The Ode to Autumr ranks among the finest ireatment of the subject is perfectly 0 himself completely out of the picture. sounds without expressing his personal re The poem is a perfect Nature-lyric. No hum only the beauty and bounty of Nature d

An Autobiographical Element in the Poem Sometimes this possible to connect its serenity with it is almost certain that he simply tried to catch th afternoon.

2. CRITICAL SUMMARY

The Progress of Thought and Feeling in the Poem Here is a poem in which a's n the first stanza, the poet descr 1819. He was greatly the season. The air was fine, and there was a "chaste". The stubble- in spring. Keats was so impressed by the form of this ode. poems of Keats. The bjective or impersonal. The poet keeps He only describes certain sights and action to these sights and sounds. an sentiment finds expression; uring autumn are described.

ode is taken as having an autobiographical quality: it is the way of Keats's own life. However, e spirit of an autumn eason has been personified and made to live. bes the fruits of autumn, the fruits coming to



second stanza, autumn is rations of the harvest and at r is associated with sunset; here is no feeling of f the ode, though maturity in readiness for harvesting. In the personified as a woman present at the various ope cider-pressing. In the last stanza, the end of the yea the songs of spring are over and night is falling, but t sadness because autumn has its own songs. The close © solemn, breathes the spirit of hope.

The Fruits of Autumn Ne

Autumn is a season of ripe fruitfulness. It is the ume of the Le of grapes, apples, gourds, hazelnuts, etc. It is also the time when the ees suck the sweetness from "later flowers" and make honey. Thus autumn is pictured in the stanza as bringing all the fruits of earth tO maturity in readiness for harvesting.

The Occupations of Autumn the person of a reaper, a

In the second stanza, autumn is seen I winnower, a gleaner, and a cider-presser. Reaping, winnowing, gleaning and connected - with the harvest and are, cider-pressing are all operations therefore, carried on during autumn. Autumn is depicted firstly as a harvester ng operation; secondly, as a sitting carelessly in the field during a winnowing 0 : tired reaper fallen asleep in the very midst of reaping; thirdly, as a gleaner walking homewards with a load on the head; and fourthly, as a cider-presser watching intently the apple-juice

flowing out of the cider-press. The Songs of Autumn id of music. If spring has its songs, Autumn is not altogether devo autumn too has its sounds and songs. In the evening, when the crimson light of the setting sun falls upon the stubble-fields, a chorus of natural sounds is heard. The gnats utter their mournful sounds; the full-grown lambs bleat loudly; the hedge-crickets chirp; the robin's high and delicate notes are heard: and the swallows twitter in the sky. In this last stanza the close of the.

year is associated with sunset and night-fall. /

3. CRITICAL APPRECIATION

Its Faultless Construction

: This is the most faultless of Keats's odes in point of constru first stanza gives us the bounty of Autumn, the second descri occupations of the season, and the last dwells upon its sounds. Indee poem is a complete and concrete picture of Autumn "the season of mists an mellow fruitfulness". RB ction. The Its Sensuousness
The bounty of Autumn has been described with all its sensuous appeal The vines suggesting grapes, the apples, the gourds, the hazels with their sweet kernel, the bees suggesting honey—all these appeal to our senses © taste and smell. The whole landscape is made to appear fresh and scented:
ODE TO AUTUMN

the first stanza. Each line is like

There is great concentration in each line of ut the branch of a fruit-tree laden with fruit to the breaking-
Its Vivid Imagery | ao;

The second stanza contains some of the most vivid pictures 1n Eng Autumn 18 personified poetry. Keats's pictorial quality is here seen at its best. Autu a and presented to us in the figure of the winnower, "sitting carcless ee granary floor", the reaper "on a half-reaped furrow sound asleep', cleaner keeping "steady thy laden head across a brook", and a spectator watching with patient look a cider-press and the last oozings therefrom. The reaper, the winnower, the gleaner, and the cider-presser symbolise Autumn. These pictures make the poem human and universal because the eternal labours of man are brought before the eyes of the reader.

The Poet's Keen Observation of Nature

The third stanza is a collection of the varied sounds of Autumn—the choir of gnats, the bleating of lambs, the singing of crickets, the whistling of red-breasts, and the twittering of swallows. Keats's interest in small and homely creatures is fully evidenced in these lines. The whole poem demonstrates Keats's interest in Nature and his keen and minute observation of natural sights and sounds. Keats's responsiveness and sensitivity to natural phenomena is one of the striking qualities of his poetry.
Its Objectivity and its Greek Character

The poem is characterised by complete objectivity. The poet keeps himself absolutely out of the picture. Nor does he express any emotion whether of joy or melancholy. He gives

the objects of feeling, not the feeling itself. The poem is written in a calm and serene mood. There is no discontent, no anguish, no bitterness of any kind. There is no philosophy in the poem, no allegory, no inner meaning. We are just brought face to face with "Nature in
AI] her richness of tint and form". The poem breathes the spirit of Greek poetry. In fact, it is one of the most Greek compositions by Keats. There is the Greek touch in the personification of Autumn and there is the Greek note in the poet's impersonal manner of dwelling upon Nature.
Felicity of Diction _

We have here the usual felicity of diction for which Keats is famous.

Phrases like "mellow fruitfulness", "maturing sun", "hair soft-lifted",

"barred clouds" which "bloom the soft-dying day", "hilly bourn" are

examples of Keats's happy coinages. Nor is poetic artifice wanting to add beauty to the verse. The alliteration in the following lines is, for instance, noteworthy:To smell the gourd, and plump the hazel shelis
With a sweet kernel; to set budding more,

And still more, later flowers for the bees, Until they think warm days will never cease,
For summer has o'er-brimm'd their clammy cells. re contain the same "z" sound—hazel, shells, flowers, bees
s. The abundance of "m" sound in these lines is also more, warm, summer, brimm'd clammy.

Several words he days, cease, cell noteworthy: plump, Its Form

The rhyme-scheme in this ode is the same (except for a little variation) ip all the stanzas each of which consists of 11 lines. Thus itis a "regular" ode,
_ A Critic's Comment

"Most satisfying of all the Odes, in thought and expression, is the Ode Tp Autumn. Most satisfying because, for all the splendour of diction in the others, there are times when the poetic fire dwindles for a moment, whereas in this ode, from its inception to its close, matter and manner are not only superbly blended, but every line carries its noble freight of beauty. The first stanza is a symphony of colour, the second a symphony of movement, the third a symphony of sound. The artist shapes the first and last, and in the midst the man, the thinker, gives us its human significance. Thus is the poem perfected, its sensuous imagery enveloping as it were its vital idea." (A.
Compton-Rickett)

David Perkins on the Ode to Autumn

A Significant Ode

David Perkins, quoting another critic, says that this ode is regarded as "a very nearly perfect piece of style" but that it has "little to say". However, says David Perkins, this ode

is very “significant”. Even more than Keats’s other odes, To Autumn, is “objective, oblique and impersonal, carried scarcely at all by direct statement that involves the poet”. Its expression, like that of the Grecian Urn or the Nightingale, is concrete and symbolic, and as in these other odes, the symbol adopted has been previously established in Keats's poetry. Keats’s view of the seasons is on the whole rather conventional: spring is the time of budding, summer of fulfilment, and winter of death. Autumn coming between summer and winter, can be seen as the intensifying and prolonging of summer. In other words, autumn suggests precisely that lengthening-out of fulfilment as its crest or climax which Keats had desired to find in the concrete world. So the poet, turning to the concrete, contemplate it with serenity.

**The Imagery in the First Stanza**

Autumn, accordingly, is described as a season of “mellow fruitfulness”. The sun is ripening or “maturing” the earth, “conspiring” to load the vines and bend the apple trees, “to swell the gourd, and plump the hazel shells”.

The season fills “all fruit with ripeness to the core”; and these images of full, inward ripeness and strain suggest that the maturing can go no further, that the fulfilment has reached its climax. Even the cells of the bees are over- brimmed. Yet the ripening continues, “budding more, and still more, later flowers™. The bees “think warm days will never cease. Thus through the he poem suggests a prolonging of fulfilment. At the same time, imagety Shere are indirect images of ageing. For the sun 1S maturing—it is nove" "ipening the things, but is also growing older. So also autumn itself, not 1osc-bosom friend” of the sun.

**the[magery in the Second Stanza**

The second stanza picks up and continues imagery of arrested motion in

The stumn is here personified in a variety of attitudes; but the dominant (he first of autumn as the harvester—and a harvester that is in a sense image caper, death itself. Instead of harvesting, however, autumn is ose death being momentarily held off as the ripening still continues.

; umn appears “sitting careless on a granary floor”. The granary is Hig the harvest would be stored, but autumn is not bringing in the grain. wher onance and alliteration of the line, “Thy hair soft-lifted by the

Tne ing wind”, leads into the image of autumn feeling drowsy or sleepy ue half-reaped furrow—again the harvest arrested. Finally autumn is seen pi a cider-press where it watches “the last oozings hours by hours”. This 1s one of the two images suggesting activity, the other being the gleaner with laden head crossing a brook; but the motion is so slow that the reader takes (he cider-press almost as a repetition of the half-reaped furrow. But, of course, these are the last, oozings, and the harvest is drawing to a close. The notion of death is present but it will emerge more emphatically in the third stanza.The Imagery in the Last Stanza; the Mood and the Thought of the Poem Things reveal their essential identity most intensely at the moment of dying or readiness to die. So the last stanza begins with the one comment the poet offers in his own person. “Where are the songs of Spring ?” but there is no rebellion in the answer: “Think not of them, thou hast thy music too”. There follows an image of the day, which, like autumn, is about to end, and the death is

accompanied by a fulfilment; for as it dies the day blooms all flowers ("While barred clouds bloom the soft-dying day").

The stanza proceeds with images of death or withdrawal, and of song, and the songs are a funeral dirge for the dying year. At the same time, there is a tone of tenderness in the stanza; and the objectivity of the last few lines suggests an acceptance which includes even the fact of death. Death is here recognised as something inherent in the course of things, the condition and price of all fulfilment, having like the spring and summer of life its own distinctive character or "music" which is also to be prized and relished. In the last analysis, perhaps, the serenity and acceptance here expressed are aesthetic. The ode is, after all, a poem of contemplation. The symbol of autumn compels that attitude. The poet's own fears, ambitions and passions are not directly engaged, and hence he can be relatively withdrawn. The poet seems to suggest that life in all its stages has a certain identity and beauty which

Man can appreciate by disengaging his own ego. "

**The Structure of the Poem**

The handling of verse-structure is here wonderfully resourceful. The use of the run-on line in the first stanza, for instance, is noteworthy. If "swell" and "plump" give the outward signs of fat richness, the stress on "sweet kernel", inevitable after the pause at the end of the previous line, vividly makes us think of the lusciousness within. And the imagined sweetness leads to even greater sweetness of the honey made by the bees. The loaded abundance is suggested by the heavy movement in the last line which describes the over-brimming of their cells. There is so much oozing sweetness here that the honey-combs are insufficient to hold it all. pees 2 ee has shown (in Revaluation), Keats 'employs verse- Hire po our lines of the second stanza to enact the very jin = cancr. Keats is here able to suggest the prudent hesitation brook. Aeain. man) carefully balancing his load before he crosses the gain, the extreme slowness with which the drops of cider issue from the press is suggested b a hour" ge y the line: "Thou watchest the last oozings, hour by

**ODE TO AUTUMN**

**No Resentment or Horror About the Fact of Death**

There are various hints of death in the final stanza, but the idea of death is not treated with horror or resentment. The day is dying softly, the rosy «ploom" of sunset taking away from the stark bareness of the now fully- reaped corn-fields. And, in any case, the very reference to the close of the day, like the final line about the swallows, carries with it a suggestion of its opposite. Just as the swallows will come back next year, so another day will down, for the great movement of life goes on, however short the existence of the individual.Walter

To Autumn is one of the most nearly perfect poems in English. The different parts of the poem contribute directly to the whole, with nothing left dangling or independent. The Ode to a Nightingale is a less "perfect" though a greater poem.

The Complete Objectivity of the Poem

The poet himself is completely absent from the poem; there is not "I", no suggestion of the discursive language that we find in the other odes; the poem is entirely concrete, and self-sufficient in and through its concreteness. There is also a successful union of the ideal (that is, of the heart's desire) and reality. What the heart really wants is being found (in the first

stanza, fullness and completion; in the second, a prolonging of that fulfilment). Here at last is something of a genuine paradise, therefore. It even has its deity—a benevolent deity that wants not only to "load and bless", but also to "spare", to prolong, to "set budding more". And yet all this is put with concrete exactness and fidelity.

**The Dominant Aspects of Autumn**

Each of the three stanzas concentrates on a dominant aspect of autumn. The theme of the first is ripeness, of growth now reaching its climax. Yet growth is still surprisingly going on. The second stanza depicts stillness, for now autumn is conceived as a reaper or harvester, but a harvester who is not harvesting. Movement begins only in the latter part of the stanza. Even then it is suggested only in the momentary glimpse of the gleaner crossing a brook; and autumn then stops again to watch the slow pressing of the apples into cider as the hours pass. There is a hint that the end is approaching: these are the "last oozings".

A Shift in the Final Stanza

In the final stanza, the personified figure of autumn is replaced by concrete images of life, and of life unafflicted by any thought of death*: the gnats, the hedge-crickets, the redbreasts. Moreover, it is life that can exist in *Notice the difference between the foregoing interpretation by Walter Jackson
Bate and this interpretation.

**JOHN KEATS**

At other times than autumn. Only two images are peculiar much {he same MO egtubble-plains" and the "full-grown lambs". Ihe mind is {pile scason—112 wail ful mourning of the gnats with a funeral dirge for the free to associate me sound is no more confined to autumn alone than is the dying year boy day; and if the swallows are gathering, they are not "soft-dying i : ing for migration. * sarily gathering hi

4. EXPLANATIONS

**Stanza 1**

Season of mists and mellow Jrultfuingss—Lutm here i a

the season during which there is lot of mist in the air an uring ic i to maturity. Close bosom-friend—intimate collaborator. Autumn an ie i are here regarded as two collaborators who work together to bring about the ripening of fruits. In other words, the season of autumn helps the sun in the latter's function of bringing the fruits to maturity. Thatch-eves—the projecting portions or edges of the roofs of thatched cottages. A thatched cottage is one the roof of which is covered with straw, reeds, etc.

How to load and bless.....run—This is a picture of the vines becoming loaded with grapes. The vines run round the edges of thatched roofs. Itis the sun which brings the grapes to maturity. Autumn co-operates with the sun in this process. (Eves—eaves; projecting portions of roofs.)

Gourd—the word is here used in the sense of a pumpkin. To swell the gourd—the gourd becomes bigger and bigger during autumn. To swell—to enlarge. Kernel—the sweet substance inside the hazel-nuts. To set budding more, and still more, later flowers for the

bees—Certain varieties of flowers bloom in autumn. The bees suck the sweetness of these flowers in order to make honey. O'er-brimm'd—filled to overflowing. Clammy—sticky. Cells—the small holes in a honey-comb.

Explanation. Season of mists and mellow fruitfulness.....their clammy cells (Stanza 1)—In this stanza, the poet has described the bounty of Autumn. Autumn is the season of mists. It is a season during which different kinds of fruit ripen and it seems that Autumn actively co-operates with the sun in bringing about the maturity of the fruits, Thus Autumn and the sun work together for the ripening of all kinds of fruit. The vines running round the edges of thatched roofs become loaded with grapes during Autumn.

The branches of the apple-trees are howed nearly to the ground with the wei ght of apples. The apple-trees growing in the collage-gardens are covered with moss and are weighed down with fruit. AJ] fruit is filled with sweetness through and through. The gourd grows bigger and bigger. The hazel-nuts are filled with a sweet kernel. Certain flowers also bloom in autumn. The bees suck the sweetness of these flowers. To the bees, it seems that these flowers represent a continuation of summer. For the bees, therefore, the warm days of Notice the difference ce | between the foregoing interpretation by Walter Jackson Bate and this Interpretation,



summer have not ended. The sticky cells of the honeycombs are filled to overflowing with honey, and yet Autumn provides more flowers in case the bees may like to draw more sweetness from them.

**Stanza 2**

In this stanza, Autumn is seen in the figure of a woman performing different tasks associated with that season. Who hath not seen.....thy store 7—Autumn may often be seen in the fields in the midst of her treasures of corn which has been harvested. The winnowing wind—the wind which separates the chaff from the grains. It also means the wind which ruffles and parts the locks of a woman's hair.

The fume of poppies—the heavy narcotic scent of poppies. The poppy is a flowers from which opium is obtained. Hook—sickle. Spares—abstains from: does not reap or cut. Swath—-a ridge or row of corn. Gleaner—a person who collects the grains and ears of corn which have been left behind in the fields by the reapers. The gleaner collects the grains and then goes home with her head laden with the weight of the grains. The last oozings—the remnants of apple-juice falling drop by drop from the cider-press.

Explanation. Who hath not seen thee.....hours by hours (Stanza yl This stanza describes the occupations of Autumn. Autumn is here personified as a winnower, as a reaper, as a gleaner, and as a cider-presser. Autumn is here seen as a woman who performs the tasks of winnowing, reaping, gleaning, and cider-pressing. If anyone wants to see Autumn, he may go into the fields and he will see the women engaged in the winnowing operations, while the breeze ruffles their locks of hair. This is one picture of Autumn. Secondly, we may see Autumn in the shape of a reaper, who has beén engaged in reaping corn but who in the course of her work is so overcome by the sleep-inducing smell of poppies that she falls asleep, with the result that the next row of corn remains unreaped. Thirdly, Autumn may be seen in the character of a gleaner who is walking along steadily with the weight of

grains upon her head, crossing a stream. Finally, Autumn may be seen in the figure of a woman who is crushing the ripe apples in the wooden press to obtain their juice from which cider is to be made. This woman sits by the cider-press and watches patiently the apple juice flowing out of the press, drop by drop. Note. In this stanza, Autumn has been given a concrete shape and a concrete personality. Autumn is seen in four different guises, corresponding to the different occupations of this season.

**Stanza 3**

Think not of them, thou hast thy music too—Autumn is here contrasted with Spring. Spring is distinguished by its sweet songs of birds. Autumn does not possess those songs. But there is no need to feel any regret on that

**JOHN KEATS**

Barred clouds—clouds looking like the bars of a grate; long-drawn-out clouds. Bloom—Ilend charm to. While barred clouds bloom the soft-dying day—This is a beautiful picture of the glow of sunset, with clouds having the shape of bars. Stubble plains—fields from which the harvest has been reaped, leaving behind the stumps. Wailful choir—mournful collective singing. Gnat—a kind of flying insect. River sallows—willow trees of low-growing or shrubby kind, growing on the river-side.

Gathering swallows swallows gathering in large numbers (for winter migration). (The swallows migrate in large numbers to warm places when winter comes). Where are the songs of Spring ?.....twitter in the skies (Stanza 3)—In this stanza, the poet describes the sounds of Autumn. Spring is distinguished by its songs. These sweet songs are not heard in autumn. But there is no need to feel any regret on that account. Autumn has its own peculiar music. The sounds of autumn are heard in the evenings when the sun is setting, a soft glow irradiates the fields from which the crop has been reaped, leaving the stumps behind. The long-drawn-out clouds in the sky look like the bars of a grate. At this time, the melancholy buzzing of the gnats is heard. The gnats fly about among the shrubs growing on the river-side. The gnats are carried upwards when the wind is strong, and they come downwards when the wind is feeble. In addition to the gnats singing in a melancholy chorus, the bleating of full-grown lambs is heard from the hills which bound the landscape. Then there is the chirping of the grasshoppers. Next comes the high, bold and delicate singing of the redbreast which sings from an orchard. Finally, there is the twittering of the swallows which are gathering in large numbers to get ready for their winter migration.

# YOGI VEMANA UNIVERSITY,KADAPA

**DEPARTMENT OF ENGLISH**

**M.A ENGLISH LITERATUREAND LANGUAGE**

## SEMESTER - I

**ENGYVU102: DRAMA – I**

**With Effect From 2021-22 (Under NEP 2020 )**

## Program Educational Objectives (PEOs)

- After going through the prescribed text students will be able to understand literary terms, Plot, characterization, themes, motifs, symbols and other elements of the prescribed texts.
- After going through the prescribed text students will be able to understand critical analysis of the prescribed plays.

**UNIT – I**

**Background Study : Literary History – Genre – Movements – Ideas – Trends – Concepts**

**UNIT – II**

**1. Christopher Marlowe : Dr. Faustus**

**2. Ben Jonson : Volpone**

**UNIT – III**

**3. William Shakespeare : Macbeth**

**4. William Shakespeare : Measure for Measure**

**UNIT – IV**

**5. William Congreve : Way of the World**

**6. Oscar Wilde : The Importance of BeingEarnest**

## ProgramSpecificOutcomes(PSOs)

- Creates awareness of various Genres, Movements, Ideas and concepts of the time
- Understands and analyses early British drama and to create awareness of the classical, Renaissance and Restoration drama.

## Suggested Reading:


- Chambers, E. K. The Elizabethan Stage. 4 Volumes, Oxford, Clarendon Press, 1923.

- Logan, Terence P., and Denzell S. Smith, eds. The Predecessors of Shakespeare: A Survey and Bibliography of Recent Studies in English Renaissance Drama. Lincoln, NE, University of Nebraska Press, 1973.
- *Marlowe, Christopher (1962). Bevington, David; Rasmussen, Eric (eds.).* Doctor Faustus, A- and B-texts (1604, 1616)*. Manchester: U of Manchester P. pp. 72–73.* ISBN 9780719016431.


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# *Drama*

## UNIT I

### Background Study

Twentieth Century British theatre is commonly believed to have started in Dublin, Ireland with the foundation of the Irish Literary Theater by William B. Yeats, Lady Gregory, and J.M. Synge. (Greenblatt 1843) Their purpose was to provide a specifically Celtic and Irish venue that produced works that "stage[d] the deeper emotions of Ireland." (The Abbey's) The playwrights of the Irish Literary Theater (which later became the Abbey Theater, as it is known today) were part of the literary revival and included: Sean O'Casey, J.M. Synge, W.B. Yeats, Lady Gregory and Edward Martyn, to name a few. In England the well-made play genre was being rejected and replaced with actors and directors who were committed to bringing both reform and a serious audience to the theatre by appealing to the younger, socially conscious and politically alert crowd. In the plays by George Bernard Shaw, Harley Granville Barker, W. Somerset Maugham, and John Galsworthy, characters emulated this new crowd, satirized the well-made play characters, and created new stereotypes and new standards. (Chothia)

The early twentieth century denoted the split between 'frocks and frills' drama and serious works, following in the footsteps of many other European countries. "In Britain the impact of these continental innovations was delayed by a conservative theatre establishment until the late 1950s and 1960s when they converged with the counter-cultural revolution to transform the nature of English language theatre." The West End, England's Broadway, tended to produce the (Greenblatt 1844) musical comedies and well-made plays, while smaller theatres and Irish venues took a new direction. The new direction was political, satirical, and rebellious. Common themes in the new early 20th century drama were political, reflecting the unease or rebellion of the workers against the state, philosophical, delving into the who and why of human life and existence, and revolutionary, exploring the themes of colonization and loss of territory. They explored common societal business practices (conditions of factories), new political ideologies (socialism), or the rise of a repressed sector of the population (women).(Chothia) Industrialization also had an impact on Twentieth century drama, resulting in plays lamenting the alienation of humans in an increasingly mechanical world. Not only did Industrialization result in alienation; so did the wars. Between the wars, two types of theatre reined. In the West End, the middle class attended popular, conservative theatre dominated by Noël Coward and G.B. Shaw.

"Commercial theatre thrived and at Drury Lane large budget musicals by Ivor Novello and Noel Coward used huge sets, extravagant costumes and large casts to create spectacular productions." (West End) After the wars, taboos were broken and new writers, directors, and actors emerged with different views. Many played with the idea of reality, some were radically political, others shunned naturalism and questioned the legitimacy of previously unassailable beliefs. (Chothia) Towards the end of the century, the term 'theatre of exorcism' came into use due to the amount of plays conjuring the past in order to confront and accept it. Playwrights towards the end of the century count among their numbers: Samuel Beckett, Harold Pinter, Andrew Lloyd Webber, Brian Friel, Caryl Churchill, and Tom Stoppard. The last act of the century was a turn back towards realism as well as the founding of Europe's first children's cultural center.

## 2. Trends

**Realism and Myth**

Sigmund Freud inspired an interest in myth and dreams as playwrights became familiar with his studies of psychoanalysis. Along with the help of Carl Jung, the two psychiatrists influenced playwrights to incorporate myths into their plays. This integration allowed for new opportunities for playwrights to increase the boundaries of realism within their writing. As playwrights started to use myths in their writing, a "poetic form of realism" was created. This form of realism deals with truths that are widespread amongst all humans, bolstered by Carl Jung's idea of the collective unconscious.

**Poetic Realism**

Much of the poetic realism that was written during the beginning of the twentieth century focused on the portrayals of Irish peasant life. John Millington Synge, W.B. Yeats, and Lady Gregory were but a few writers to use poetic realism. Their portrayal of peasant life was often unappealing and many audiences reacted cruelly. Many plays that are poetically realistic often have unpleasant themes running through them, such as lust between a son and his step-mother or the murder of a baby to "prove" love. These plays used myths as a surrogate for real life in order to allow the audience to live the unpleasant plot without completely connecting to it.

**Women**

The female characters progressed from the downtrodden, useless woman to an empowered, emancipated woman. They were used to to pose subversive questions about the social order. Many female characters portray the author's masculine attitudes about women and their place in society. As time passed, though, females began gain empowerment. G.B. Shaw became one of the first English playwrights to follow Ibsen's influence and create roles of real women. Mrs. Warren, Major Barbara, and Pygmalion all have strong female leads. Women first started voting in 1918. Later in the century, females (and males) were

both subjected to the alienation of society and routinely were not given names to suggest to the audience the character's worth within the play.

### Political Theatre and War

Political theatre uses the theatre to represent "how a social or political order uses its power to 'represent' others coercively." It uses live performances and often shows the power of politics through "demeaning and limiting" prejudices. Political theatre often represents many different types of groups that are often stereotyped – "women, gay men, lesbians, ethnic and racial groups, [and] the poor." Political theatre is used to express one's political ideas. Agitprop, a popular form of political theatre, even had its roots in the 1930s women's rights movement. Propaganda played a big role in political theater, whether it be in support of a war or in opposition of political schemes, theater played a big role in influencing the public.
The wars also affected the early theatre of the twentieth century. The consternation before WWI produced the Dada movement, the predecessor to Surrealism and Expressionism.

## 3. Types of Modern Drama

### Realism

Realism, in theater, was meant to be a direct observation of human behavior. It began as a way to make theater more useful to society, a way to hold a mirror up to society. Because of this thrust towards the "real" playwrights started using more contemporary settings, backgrounds and characters. Where plays in the past had, for the most part, used mythological or stereotypical characters, now they involved the lower class, the poor, the rich; they involved all genders, classes and races. One of the main contributors to this style was Henrik Ibsen.

### Social Realism

Social Realism began showing up in plays during the 1930s. This realism had a political conscience behind it because the world was in a depression. These plays painted a harsh picture of rural poverty. The drama began to aim at showing governments the penalties of unrestrained capitalism and the depressions that lax economies created. One of the main contributors to this style was G.B. Shaw.

### Avant Garde Theatre

***"Dramatic truth couldn't be found in the tangibleness of realistic drama, but in symbols, images, legends, myths, fantasies, and dreams"*** (Klaus)

**Absurdist Drama**

Absurdist Drama was existentialist theatre which put a direct perception of a mode of being above all abstract considerations. It was also essentially a poetic, lyrical theatre for the expression of intuitions of being through movement, situations and concrete imagery. Language was generally downplayed. (Barnet) Symbolism, Dadaism and their offspring, Surrealism, Theatre of Cruelty, and Expressionism all fall into this category.

## DADAISM

Dadaism, or Dada, was a reaction against WWI. Like many of the movements, Dada included writing, painting and poetry as well as theatre. Many Dadaists wrote manifestos detailing their beliefs, which normally outlined their disgust in colonialism and nationalism and tried to be the opposite of the the current aesthetics and values. The more Dada offended, the better. It was considered to be (by Dadaists), the 'anti-art'. It rejected the values of society and turned everything on its head, preferring to disgust and offend.

## SYMBOLISM/AESTHETICISM

In England, Symbolism was also known as Aestheticism. A very stylized format of drama, wherein dreams and fantasies were common plot devices, Aestheticism was used by numerous playwrights from Yeats to Pinter. The staging was highly stylized, usually using minimal set pieces and vague blocking. While the playwrights who could be considered Aestheticists lived and worked at the beginning of the century, it influenced all of the following styles.

## SURREALISM

Like Aestheticism, Surrealism has its base in the mystical. It developed the physicality of theatre and downplayed words, hoping to influence its audiences through action. Other common characteristics of surreal plays are unexpected comparisons and surprise. The most famous British playwright in the 20s surrealist style is Samuel Beckett. Theatre of Cruelty is a subset of surrealism and was motivated by an idea of Antonin Artaud. It argues the idea that theatre is a "representational medium" and tried to bring current ideas and experiences to the audience through participation and "ritualistic theater experiments." Artaud thought that theatre should present and represent equally. This type of theatre relies deeply on metaphors and rarely included a description of how it could be performed.

## EXPRESSIONISM

The term ‘Expressionism’ was first coined in Germany in 1911. (Michaelides) Expressionism also had its hey-day during the 20s although it had two distinct branches. The branches had characters speaking in short, direct sentences or in long, lyrical expanses. This type of theatre usually did not name the characters and spend much time lamenting the present and warning against the future. Spiritual awakenings and episodic structures were also fairly common.

### Epic Theatre

Epic theater was created by Bertold Brecht who rejected realistic theatre. He found that such plays were too picture-perfect. Epic Theatre is based on Greek Epic poetry. There are dramatic illusions such as “stark, harsh lighting, blank stages, placards announcing changes of scenes, bands playing music onstage, and long, discomfiting pauses” (Jacobus). Brecht believed that drama should be made within its audiences and he thought that Epic Theatre drama would reinforce the realities that people were facing rather than challenge them. Epic Theatre helped to preserve the social issues that they portrayed.

# PYGMALION

**By George Bernard Shaw**

Two old gentlemen meet in the rain one night at Covent Garden. Professor Higgins is a scientist of phonetics, and Colonel Pickering is a linguist of Indian dialects. The first bets the other that he can, with his knowledge of phonetics, convince high London society that, in a matter of months, he will be able to transform the cockney speaking Covent Garden flower girl, Eliza Doolittle, into a woman as poised and well-spoken as a duchess. The next morning, the girl appears at his laboratory on Wimpole Street to ask for speech lessons, offering to pay a shilling, so that she may speak properly enough to work in a flower shop. Higgins makes merciless fun of her, but is seduced by the idea of working his magic on her. Pickering goads him on by agreeing to cover the costs of the experiment if Higgins can pass Eliza off as a duchess at an ambassador's garden party. The challenge is taken, and Higgins starts by having his housekeeper bathe Eliza and give her new clothes. Then Eliza's father Alfred Doolittle comes to demand the return of his daughter, though his real intention is to hit Higgins up for some money. The professor, amused by

Doolittle's unusual rhetoric, gives him five pounds. On his way out, the dustman fails to recognize the now clean, pretty flower girl as his daughter.

For a number of months, Higgins trains Eliza to speak properly. Two trials for Eliza follow. The first occurs at Higgins' mother's home, where Eliza is introduced to the Eynsford Hills, a trio of mother, daughter, and son. The son Freddy is very attracted to her, and further taken with what he thinks is her affected "small talk" when she slips into cockney. Mrs. Higgins worries that the experiment will lead to problems once it is ended, but Higgins and Pickering are too absorbed in their game to take heed. A second trial, which takes place some months later at an ambassador's party (and which is not actually staged), is a resounding success. The wager is definitely won, but Higgins and Pickering are now bored with the project, which causes Eliza to be hurt. She throws Higgins' slippers at him in a rage because she does not know what is to become of her, thereby bewildering him. He suggests she marry somebody. She returns him the hired jewelry, and he accuses her of ingratitude.

The following morning, Higgins rushes to his mother, in a panic because Eliza has run away. On his tail is Eliza's father, now unhappily rich from the trust of a deceased millionaire who took to heart Higgins' recommendation that Doolittle was England's "most original moralist." Mrs. Higgins, who has been hiding Eliza upstairs all along, chides the two of them for playing with the girl's affections. When she enters, Eliza thanks Pickering for always treating her like a lady, but threatens Higgins that she will go work with his rival phonetician, Nepommuck. The outraged Higgins cannot help but start to admire her. As Eliza leaves for her father's wedding, Higgins shouts out a few errands for her to run, assuming that she will return to him at Wimpole Street. Eliza, who has a lovelorn sweetheart in Freddy, and the wherewithal to pass as a duchess, never makes it clear whether she will or not.

*Pygmalion* derives its name from the famous story in Ovid's *Metamorphoses,* in which Pygmalion, disgusted by the loose and shameful lives of the women of his era, decides to live alone and unmarried. With wondrous art, he creates a beautiful statue more perfect than any living woman. The more he looks upon her, the more deeply he falls in love with her, until he wishes that she were more than a statue. This statue is Galatea. Lovesick, Pygmalion goes to the temple of the goddess Venus and prays that she give him a lover like his statue; Venus is touched by his love and brings Galatea to life. When Pygmalion returns from Venus' temple and kisses his statue, he is delighted to find that she is warm and soft to the touch--"The maiden felt the kisses, blushed and, lifting her timid eyes up to the light, saw the sky and her lover at the same time" (Frank Justus Miller, trans.).

Myths such as this are fine enough when studied through the lens of centuries and the buffer of translations and editions, but what happens when one tries to translate such an allegory into Victorian England? That is just what George Bernard Shaw does in his version of the Pygmalion myth. In doing so, he exposes the inadequacy of myth and of romance in several ways. For one, he deliberately twists the myth so that the play does not conclude as euphorically or conveniently, hanging instead in unconventional ambiguity.

Next, he mires the story in the sordid and mundane whenever he gets a chance. Wherever he can, the characters are seen to be belabored by the trivial details of life like napkins and neckties, and of how one is going to find a taxi on a rainy night. These noisome details keep the story grounded and decidedly less romantic. Finally, and most significantly, Shaw challenges the possibly insidious assumptions that come with the Pygmalion myth, forcing us to ask the following: Is the male artist the absolute and perfect being who has the power to create woman in the image of his desires? Is the woman necessarily the inferior subject who sees her lover as her sky? Can there only ever be sexual/romantic relations between a man and a woman? Does beauty reflect virtue? Does the artist love his creation, or merely the art that brought that creation into being?

Famous for writing "talky" plays in which barely anything other than witty repartee takes center stage (plays that the most prominent critics of his day called non-plays), Shaw finds in *Pygmalion* a way to turn the talk into action, by hinging the fairy tale outcome of the flower girl on precisely how she talks. In this way, he draws our attention to his own art, and to his ability to create, through the medium of speech, not only Pygmalion's Galatea, but Pygmalion himself. More powerful than Pygmalion, on top of building up his creations, Shaw can take them down as well by showing their faults and foibles. In this way, it is the playwright alone, and not some divine will, who breathes life into his characters. While Ovid's Pygmalion may be said to have idolized his Galatea, Shaw's relentless and humorous honesty humanizes these archetypes, and in the process brings drama and art itself to a more contemporarily relevant and human level.

## Act I

### Summary

A heavy late-night summer thunderstorm opens the play. Caught in the unexpected downpour, passersby from distinct strata of the London streets are forced to seek shelter together under the portico of St Paul's church in Covent Garden. The hapless Son is forced by his demanding sister and mother to go out into the rain to find a taxi even though there is none to be found. In his hurry, he knocks over the basket of a common Flower Girl, who says to him, "Nah then, Freddy: look wh' y' gowin, deah." After Freddy leaves, the mother gives the Flower Girl money to ask how she knew her son's name, only to learn that "Freddy" is a common by-word the Flower Girl would have used to address anyone.

An elderly military Gentleman enters from the rain, and the Flower Girl tries to sell him a flower. He gives her some change, but a bystander tells her to be careful, for it looks like there is a police informer taking copious notes on her activities. This leads to hysterical protestations on her part, that she is only a poor girl who has done no wrong. The refugees from the rain crowd around her and the Note Taker, with considerable hostility towards the latter, whom they believe to be an undercover cop. However, each time

someone speaks up, this mysterious man has the amusing ability to determine where the person came from, simply by listening to that person's speech, which turns him into something of a sideshow.

Act II

**Summary**

The next day, Higgins and Pickering are just resting from a full morning of discussion when Eliza Doolittle shows up at the door, to the tremendous doubt of the discerning housekeeper Mrs. Pearce, and the surprise of the two gentlemen. Prompted by his careless brag about making her into a duchess the night before, she has come to take lessons from Higgins, so that she may sound genteel enough to work in a flower shop rather than sell at the corner of Tottenham Court Road. As the conversation progresses, Higgins alternates between making fun of the poor girl and threatening her with a broomstick beating, which only causes her to howl and holler, upsetting Higgins' civilized company to a considerable degree. Pickering is much kinder and considerate of her feelings, even going so far as to call her "Miss Doolittle" and to offer her a seat. Pickering is piqued by the prospect of helping Eliza, and bets Higgins that if Higgins is able to pass Eliza off as a duchess at the Ambassador's garden party, then he, Pickering, will cover the expenses of the experiment.

This act is made up mostly of a long and animated three-(sometimes four-)way argument over the character and the potential of the indignant Eliza. At one point, incensed by Higgins' heartless insults, she threatens to leave, but the clever professor lures her back by stuffing her mouth with a chocolate, half of which he eats too to prove to her that it is not poisoned. It is agreed upon that Eliza will live with Higgins for six months, and be schooled in the speech and manners of a lady of high class. Things get started when Mrs. Pearce takes her upstairs for a bath.

While Mrs. Pearce and Eliza are away, Pickering wants to be sure that Higgins' intentions towards the girl are honorable, to which Higgins replies that, to him, women "might as well be blocks of wood." Mrs. Pearce enters to warn Higgins that he should be more careful with his swearing and his forgetful table manners now that they have an impressionable young lady with them, revealing that Higgins's own gentlemanly ways are somewhat precarious. At this point, Alfred Doolittle, who has learned from a neighbor of Eliza's that she has come to the professor's place, comes a-knocking under the pretence of saving his daughter's honor. When Higgins readily agrees that he should take his daughter away with him, Doolittle reveals that he is really there to ask for five pounds, proudly claiming that he will spend that money on immediate gratification and put none of it to useless savings. Amused by his blustering rhetoric, Higgins gives him the money.

Eliza enters, clean and pretty in a blue kimono, and everyone is amazed by the difference. Even her father has failed to recognize her. Eliza is taken with her transformation and

wants to go back to her old neighborhood and show off, but she is warned against snobbery by Higgins. The act ends with the two of them agreeing that they have taken on a difficult task.

## Act III

**Summary**

It is Mrs. Higgins' at-home day, and she is greatly displeased when Henry Higgins shows up suddenly, for she knows from experience that he is too eccentric to be presentable in front of the sort of respectable company she is expecting. He explains to her that he wants to bring the experiment subject on whom he has been working for some months to her at-home, and explains the bet that he has made with Pickering. Mrs. Higgins is not pleased about this unsolicited visit from a common flower girl, but she has no time to oppose before Mrs. and Miss Eynsford Hill (the mother and daughter from the first scene) are shown into the parlor by the parlor-maid. Colonel Pickering enters soon after, followed by Freddy Eynsford Hill, the hapless son from Covent Garden.

Higgins is about to really offend the company with a theory that they are all savages who know nothing about being civilized when Eliza is announced. She makes quite an impact on everyone with her studied grace and pedantic speech. Everything promises to go well until Mrs. Eynsford Hill brings up the subject of influenza, which causes Eliza to launch into the topic of her aunt, who supposedly died of influenza. In her excitement, her old accent, along with shocking facts such as her father's alcoholism, slip out. Freddy thinks that she is merely affecting "the new small talk," and is dazzled by how well she does it. He is obviously infatuated with her. When Eliza gets up to leave, he offers to walk her but she exclaims, "Walk! Not bloody likely. I am going in a taxi." The Mrs. Eynsford Hill leave immediately after. Clara, Miss Eynsford Hill, is taken with Eliza, and tries to imitate her speech.

After the guests leave, Mrs. Higgins chides Higgins. She says there is no way Eliza will become presentable as long as she lives with the constantly-swearing Higgins. She demands to know the precise conditions under which Eliza is living with the two old bachelors. She is prompted to say, "You certainly are a pretty pair of babies, playing with your live doll," which is only the first of a series of such criticisms she makes of Higgins and Pickering. They assail her simultaneously with accounts of Eliza's improvement until she must quiet them. She tries to explain to them that there will be a problem of what to do with Eliza once everything is over, but the two men pay no heed. They take their leave, and Mrs. Higgins is left exasperated by the "infinite stupidity" of "men! men!! men!!!"

## Act IV

### Summary

The trio return to Higgins' Wimpole Street laboratory, exhausted from the night's happenings. They talk about the evening and their great success, though Higgins seems rather bored, more concerned with his inability to find slippers. While he talks absentmindedly with Pickering, Eliza slips out, returns with his slippers, and lays them on the floor before him without a word. When he notices them, he thinks that they appeared out of nowhere. Higgins and Pickering begin to speak as if Eliza is not there with them, saying how happy they are that the entire experiment is over, agreeing that it had become rather boring in the last few months. The two of them then leave the room to go to bed. Eliza is clearly hurt ("Eliza's beauty turns murderous," say the stage directions), but Higgins and Pickering are oblivious to her.

Higgins pops back in, once again mystified over what he has done with his slippers, and Eliza promptly flings them in his face. Eliza is mad enough to kill him; she thinks that she is no more important to him than his slippers. At Higgins' retort that she is presumptuous and ungrateful, she answers that no one has treated her badly, but that she is still left confused about what is to happen to her now that the bet has been won. Higgins says that she can always get married or open that flower shop (both of which she eventually does), but she replies by saying that she wishes she had been left where she was before. She goes on to ask whether her clothes belong to her, meaning what can she take away with her without being accused of thievery. Higgins is genuinely hurt, something that does not happen to him often. She returns him a ring he bought for her, but he throws it into the fireplace. After he leaves, she finds it again, but then leaves it on the dessert stand and departs.

## Act V

### Summary

Higgins and Pickering show up the next day at Mrs. Higgins' home in a state of distraction because Eliza has run away. They are interrupted by Alfred Doolittle, who enters resplendently dressed, as if he were the bridegroom of a very fashionable wedding. He has come to take issue with Henry Higgins for destroying his happiness. It turns out that Higgins wrote a letter to a millionaire jokingly recommending Doolittle as a most original moralist, so that in his will the millionaire left Doolittle a share in his trust, amounting to three thousand pounds a year, provided that he lecture for the Wannafeller Moral Reform World League. Newfound wealth has only brought him more pain than pleasure, as long lost relatives emerge from the woodwork asking to be fed, not to mention that he is now no longer free to behave in his casual, slovenly, dustman ways. He has been damned by "middle class morality." The talk degenerates into a squabble over who owns Eliza, Higgins or her father (Higgins did give the latter five pounds for her after all). To stop them, Mrs. Higgins sends for Eliza, who has been upstairs all along. But first she tells Doolittle to step out on the balcony so that the she will not be shocked by the story of his new fortune.

When she enters, Eliza takes care to behave very civilly. Pickering tells her she must not think of herself as an experiment, and she expresses her gratitude to him. She says that even though Higgins was the one who trained the flower girl to become a duchess, Pickering always treated her like a duchess, even when she was a flower girl. His treatment of her taught her not phonetics, but self-respect. Higgins is speaking incorrigibly harshly to her when her father reappears, surprising her badly. He tells her that he is all dressed up because he is on his way to get married to his woman. Pickering and Mrs. Higgins are asked to come along. Higgins and Eliza are finally left alone while the rest go off to get ready.

They proceed to quarrel. Higgins claims that while he may treat her badly, he is at least fair in that he has never treated anyone else differently. He tells her she should come back with him just for the fun of it--he will adopt her as a daughter, or she can marry Pickering. She swings around and cries that she won't even marry Higgins if he asks. She mentions that Freddy has been writing her love letters, but Higgins immediately dismisses him as a fool. She says that she will marry Freddy, and that the two will support themselves by taking Higgins' phonetic methods to his chief rival. Higgins is outraged but cannot help wondering at her character--he finds this defiance much more appealing than the submissiveness of the slippers-fetcher. Mrs. Higgins comes in to tell Eliza it is time to leave. As she is about to exit, Higgins tells her offhandedly to fetch him some gloves, ties, ham, and cheese while she is out. She replies ambivalently and departs; we do not know if she will follow his orders. The play ends with Higgins's roaring laughter as he says to his mother, "She's going to marry Freddy. Ha ha! Freddy! Freddy!! Ha ha ha ha ha!!!!!"

## Characters

- **Professor Henry Higgins**

  Henry Higgins is a professor of phonetics who plays Pygmalion to Eliza Doolittle's Galatea. He is the author of Higgins' Universal Alphabet, believes in concepts like visible speech, and uses all manner of recording and photographic material to document his phonetic subjects, reducing people and their dialects into what he sees as readily understandable units. He is an unconventional man, who goes in the opposite direction from the rest of society in most matters. Indeed, he is impatient with high society, forgetful in his public graces, and poorly considerate of normal social niceties--the only reason the world has not turned against him is because he is at heart a good and harmless man. His biggest fault is that he can be a bully.

- **Eliza Doolittle**

  "She is not at all a romantic figure." So is she introduced in Act I. Everything about Eliza Doolittle seems to defy any conventional notions we might have about the romantic heroine. When she is transformed from a sassy, smart-mouthed kerbstone flower girl with deplorable English, to a (still sassy) regal figure fit to consort with nobility, it has less to do with her innate qualities as a heroine than with the fairy-tale aspect of the transformation myth itself. In other words, the character of Eliza Doolittle comes across as being much more instrumental than fundamental. The real (re-)making of Eliza Doolittle happens after

the ambassador's party, when she decides to make a statement for her own dignity against Higgins' insensitive treatment. This is when she becomes, not a duchess, but an independent woman; and this explains why Higgins begins to see Eliza not as a mill around his neck but as a creature worthy of his admiration.

- **Colonel Pickering**

  Colonel Pickering, the author of Spoken Sanskrit, is a match for Higgins (although somewhat less obsessive) in his passion for phonetics. But where Higgins is a boorish, careless bully, Pickering is always considerate and a genuinely gentleman. He says little of note in the play, and appears most of all to be a civilized foil to Higgins' barefoot, absentminded crazy professor. He helps in the Eliza Doolittle experiment by making a wager of it, saying he will cover the costs of the experiment if Higgins does indeed make a convincing duchess of her. However, while Higgins only manages to teach Eliza pronunciations, it is Pickering's thoughtful treatment towards Eliza that teaches her to respect herself.

- **Alfred Doolittle**

  Alfred Doolittle is Eliza's father, an elderly but vigorous dustman who has had at least six wives and who "seems equally free from fear and conscience." When he learns that his daughter has entered the home of Henry Higgins, he immediately pursues to see if he can get some money out of the circumstance. His unique brand of rhetoric, an unembarrassed, unhypocritical advocation of drink and pleasure (at other people's expense), is amusing to Higgins. Through Higgins' joking recommendation, Doolittle becomes a richly endowed lecturer to a moral reform society, transforming him from lowly dustman to a picture of middle class morality--he becomes miserable. Throughout, Alfred is a scoundrel who is willing to sell his daughter to make a few pounds, but he is one of the few unaffected characters in the play, unmasked by appearance or language. Though scandalous, his speeches are honest. At points, it even seems that he might be Shaw's voice piece of social criticism (Alfred's proletariat status, given Shaw's socialist leanings, makes the prospect all the more likely).

- **Mrs. Higgins**

  Professor Higgins' mother, Mrs. Higgins is a stately lady in her sixties who sees the Eliza Doolittle experiment as idiocy, and Higgins and Pickering as senseless children. She is the first and only character to have any qualms about the whole affair. When her worries prove true, it is to her that all the characters turn. Because no woman can match up to his mother, Higgins claims, he has no interest in dallying with them. To observe the mother of Pygmalion (Higgins), who completely understands all of his failings and inadequacies, is a good contrast to the mythic proportions to which Higgins builds himself in his self-estimations as a scientist of phonetics and a creator of duchesses.

- **Freddy Eynsford Hill**

  Higgins' surmise that Freddy is a fool is probably accurate. In the opening scene he is a spineless and resourceless lackey to his mother and sister. Later, he is comically bowled

over by Eliza, the half-baked duchess who still speaks cockney. He becomes lovesick for Eliza, and courts her with letters. At the play's close, Freddy serves as a young, viable marriage option for Eliza, making the possible path she will follow unclear to the reader.

## THE LADY'S NOT FOR BURNING

**Christopher Fry (1907 - 2005)**

Born Arthur Hammond Harris in Bristol, playwright, Christopher Fry took his mother's maiden name because he believed her to be related to the 19th-century Quaker prison reformer Elizabeth Fry. He also adopted Elizabeth Fry's faith, and became a Quaker. After attending Bedford Modern School he became a schoolteacher in Surrey.

Fry gave up teaching in 1932 to found the Tunbridge Wells Repertory Players, which he ran for three years, directing the English premiere of George Bernard Shaw's 'Village Wooing' in 1934. His play about Dr Thomas John Barnardo, the founder of children's homes, toured in a fund-raising amateur production in 1935 and 1936, including in its cast a young Deborah Kerr. His professional career began to take off when he was commissioned by the vicar of Steyning, West Sussex to write a play celebrating the local saint, Cuthman of Steyning, which became 'The Boy With A Cart' in 1938. It was put on professionally in 1950 with a young Richard Burton in his first starring role.

Tewkesbury Abbey commissioned his next play, 'The Tower', written in 1939. In that same year, Fry also became artistic director of Oxford Playhouse. As a pacifist, he was a conscientious objector during World War II, and served in the Non-Combatant Corps. In 1946 he wrote the comedy, 'A Phoenix Too Frequent' based upon Petronius's tale of the Ephesian widow. 'The Firstborn' was produced at the Oxford Playhouse in 1948 and in the same year he wrote a commission for the Canterbury Festival, 'Thor, With Angels' and 'The Lady's Not for Burning'. He continued to write until 2005, but his poetic style of drama began to fall out of fashion with the advent of the "Angry Young Men" of theatre in the 1950s. In later life Fry lived in the village of East Dean in West Sussex, and died, from natural causes, in Chichester in 2005.

A romantic comedy in three acts, in verse, it is set in the Middle Ages ("1400, either more or less or exactly"). It reflects the world's "exhaustion and despair" following World War II, with a war-weary soldier who wants to die, and an accused witch who wants to live. In form, it resembles Shakespeare's pastoral comedies.

It was performed at an Arts Theatre private club for two weeks in London in 1949 starring Alec Clunes, who had also commissioned it. Later that year John Gielgud took the play on a provincial tour followed by a successful London run at the Globe (now Gielgud) Theatre.[4] Gielgud took the play to the United States, where it opened on Broadway at the Royale Theatre on 8 November 1950,[5] with Pamela Brown as the female lead. Richard Burton and Claire Bloom had parts in the cast.[6] It was revived on Broadway in 1983.[7] In

the United Kingdom, a reading was produced at the National Theatre in 2006 and it was fully revived in a production at the Finborough Theatre, London, in 2007.

## *Summary*

Thomas Mendip, a world-weary recently discharged soldier, wants to be hanged. Visiting the house of Hebble Tyson, the mayor of Cool Clary, he explains this to the mayor's clerk, Richard, through a window. Alizon, the fiancée of the Mayor's nephew Humphrey, enters the room and she and Richard immediately feel a connection, although their conversation is interrupted by Thomas' asides. Shortly afterwards, Nicholas, Humphrey's brother, enters and declares that he has killed Humphrey in a battle over Alizon, and thus deserves her hand in marriage. Margaret, who is Mayor Tyson's sister and the mother of Nicholas and Humphrey, arrives. Nicholas and Richard are sent to get Humphrey from the garden, where he lies quite alive. Noises outside the house reveal a witch-hunt is in progress; Thomas repeatedly reminds everyone that he is there to be hanged, asking why his wish is ignored. The Mayor comes in and says that Thomas shall not be hanged without reason, prompting Thomas to claim that he has killed two people. The Mayor does not believe him. The accused witch, Jennet, then enters. After recounting her accusers' wild tales about her mystical powers, and laughing over their ludicrous nature, she is shocked to hear that the Mayor also believes them. The mayor sends Richard to get the constable to have her arrested, but Richard does not do so as he does not think she is a witch. The Chaplain enters next, apologising for his lateness for evening prayers. Thomas claims to be the devil and that the world will soon end. The Mayor has both him and Jennet arrested.

Later on, the mayor and Tappercoom, the Justice, discuss the prisoners' unusual reactions to the mild tortures they are being put through; Jennet will not admit to any crimes at all, whilst Thomas continually admits to new ones. Margaret rushes in, horrified by the clamour the crowd outside is making about the alleged crimes of Thomas and Jennet. The Chaplain suggests inviting Thomas to the family's party that night, thinking that this will cheer Thomas up and make him leave. Despite the family's shock, the Justice considers the proposal. Meanwhile, Richard enters, somewhat drunk. He is depressed about Thomas and Jennet, and about his hopelessness over Alizon. He reveals that Humphrey and Nicholas were sitting in the cellar with Jennet, not saying a word. The mayor, still displeased with Richard's refusal to fetch a constable, commands him to scrub the floor. Nicholas enters, ecstatic and bloody, followed by Humphrey, who explains that Nicholas

attempted to address the crowd and was hit by a brick. Margaret questions her boys on their contact with Jennet. Nicholas claims his own intentions were honourable, but disparages Humphrey's. Margaret takes Nicholas off to be cleaned up. To determine the guilt of the prisoners, the mayor proposes that he, Humphrey, Tappercoom, and the Chaplain hide upstairs and eavesdrop on Jennet and Thomas. Thomas talks about how awful humanity is, and Jennet explains that people think she's a witch because they claim that she turned Old Skipps, the same man that Thomas claims to have murdered, into a dog. They grow closer as they talk, and Jennet finally declares that she loves him, whether he's the devil or not. The Mayor re-enters with his company. Taking her declaration as an admission of guilt, he demands she be burned the next day. Thomas is outraged both at the sentence and the fact that he's being ignored, but the Justice proclaims him guilty only of being depressing and depressed, and sentences him to attend the party that night. Thomas reluctantly consents, provided that Jennet is also allowed to attend; he threatens to inform the whole countryside that the mayor and Tappercoom released a murderer if they don't agree. They do, as does Jennet, if somewhat despondently.

That evening, Thomas, Humphrey, and Nicholas are bored together, waiting for Jennet to be ready for the party. Margaret, vexed over Jennet's continued presence in her house, urges her sons to return to the festivities, but they decline. Jennet finally arrives, and the three men fight over who will accompany her; she goes with Humphrey, as he is the host. The mayor comes into the room, and tries to get Thomas to go away but he escapes into the garden. Tappercoom enters and mocks the mayor's complaints about Jennet's beauty and charm tempting him, reminding him that after she's dead they will possess her substantial property. The Chaplain enters, unhappy about his failure to play a dance at the party. Tappercoom takes him back to the party to cheer him up. Richard enters to speak to the mayor, but the latter proclaims that he's going to lock himself in his room until morning. Thomas re-enters and speaks with Richard about the sadness of the situation. Alizon arrives, and Thomas quickly goes back to the garden to give them privacy. When Richard half-heartedly defends the laws to Alizon, who is distraught over the unfairness of the burning, she says she loves him and not Humphrey. They agree to escape together and Richard rushes to get his savings. On leaving, he is stopped by Margaret, who is looking for Alizon, and misdirects her. Jennet, Humphrey, and Nicholas return from dancing. Richard is stopped once again, by Nicholas, who takes him to the cellar to get more wine. Humphrey's attempt to seduce Jennet in exchange for her life is stopped by Thomas. Jennet, upset, yells at Thomas, who admits his love for her. Nicholas re-enters, complaining that Richard locked him in the cellar. Margaret arrives, very befuddled and

unable to comprehend what has been going on in her house. Thomas and Jennet reconcile, and she tells him she doesn't believe he is a murderer. Richard and Alizon return with Old Skipps, who everyone claimed was dead or a dog, and Humphrey and Nicholas bring Tappercoom and the chaplain. Richard and Alizon slip off whilst everyone is distracted by the old man. Tappercoom is satisfied that there is no witch or murderer, and Margaret sends her sons to take the very drunk old man home before leaving with the Chaplain. As he goes to bed, Tappercoom hints that Jennet and Thomas could quietly leave town before morning. Thomas, despite his continuing disgust with mankind, agrees to accompany Jennet to whatever new place she goes, and they escape into the night.

# UNIT II

# LOOK BACK IN ANGER

**John Osborne**, in full **John James Osborne**, (born December 12, 1929, London, England—died December 24, 1994, Shropshire), British playwright and film producer whose *Look Back in Anger* (performed 1956) ushered in a new movement in British drama and made him known as the first of the Angry Young Men.

The son of a commercial artist and a barmaid, Osborne used insurance money from his father's death in 1941 for a boarding- school education at Belmont College, Devon. He hated it and left after striking the headmaster. He went home to his mother in London and briefly tried trade journalism until a job tutoring a touring company of juvenile actors introduced him to the theatre. He was soon acting himself, later becoming an actor-manager for various repertory companies in provincial towns and also trying his hand at playwriting. His first play, *The Devil Inside Him*, was written in 1950 with his friend and mentor Stella Linden, an actress and one of Osborne's first passions.

Osborne made his first appearance as a London actor in 1956, the same year that *Look Back in Anger* was produced by the English Stage Company. Although the form of the play was not revolutionary, its content was unexpected. On stage for the first time were the 20- to 30-year-olds of Great Britain who had not participated in World War II and found its aftermath shabby and lacking in promise. The hero, Jimmy Porter, although the son of a worker, has, through the state educational system, reached an uncomfortably marginal position on the border of the middle class from which he can see the traditional possessors of privilege holding the better jobs and threatening his upward climb. Jimmy Porter continues to work in a street-market and vents his rage on his middle-class wife and her middle-class friend. No solution is proposed for Porter's frustrations, but Osborne makes the audience feel them acutely.

Osborne's next play, *The Entertainer* (1957), projects a vision of a contemporary Britain diminished from its days of self-confidence. Its hero is a failing comedian, and Osborne uses the decline of the music-hall tradition as a metaphor for the decline of a nation's vitality. In 1958 Osborne and director Tony Richardson founded Woodfall Film Productions, which produced motion pictures of *Look Back in Anger* (1959), *The Entertainer* (1959), and, from a filmscript by Osborne that won an Academy Award, *Tom Jones* (1963), based on the novel by Henry Fielding.

*Luther* (1961), an epic play about the Reformation leader, again showed Osborne's ability to create an actably rebellious central figure. His two *Plays for England* (1962) include *The Blood of the Bambergs,* a satire on royalty, and *Under Plain Cover,* a study of an incestuous couple playing games of dominance and submission.

The tirade of Jimmy Porter is resumed in a different key by a frustrated solicitor in Osborne's *Inadmissible Evidence* (1964). *A Patriot for Me* (1965) portrays a homosexual Austrian officer in the period before World War I, based on the story of Alfred Redl, and shows Osborne's interests in the decline of empire and the perils of the nonconformist. *West of Suez* (1971) revealed a measure of sympathy for a type of British colonizer whose day has waned and antipathy for his ideological opponents, who are made

to appear confused and neurotic. Osborne's last play, *Déjàvu* (1992), a sequel to *Look Back in Anger,* revisits Jimmy Porter after a 35-year interval.

## 4. Look Back in Anger

*Look Back in Anger* is considered one of the most important plays in the modern British theater. It was the first well-known example of "Kitchen Sink drama," a style of theater that explored the emotion and drama beneath the surface of ordinary domestic life. Jimmy Porter, the play's main character, became the model for the "Angry Young Man," a nickname given to an entire generation of artists and working class young men in post-World War II British society.

Osborne wrote the play in only a few weeks in May of 1955. The play was first rejected by many of the agents and theater companies that Osborne approached about producing it. George Divine, the creative producer for the struggling Royal Court Theater, decided to gamble on the play and staged its first production. The play opened on May 8, 1956. It received mixed reviews from English theater critics, yet it won a rave review from the Times. This established the play's notoriety and helped it eventually build an audience.

The two iconic motifs of the play are the aforementioned concepts of the Angry Young Man and the Kitchen Sink drama. The Angry Young Man motif came to be associated with a group of young writers and artists -- John Osborne and Kingsley Amis being foremost amongst them -- that the cultural public believed to personify an anger, boredom, and frustration with British cultural life that many working class families felt during this time.

The idea of the Kitchen Sink drama was also a revelation for British theater. The stylings of most British theater before *Look Back in Anger* favored Victorian dramas and comedies or stagings of classical plays. In a general sense, the Victorian plays dealt mostly with polite themes from the late 19th and early 20th century upper ruling class. In contrast, Osborne's play depicted the raw emotions and living conditions of the working class. This style of theater was given the name "Kitchen Sink" because of its focus on the interior domestic and emotional lives of ordinary people. In the case of *Look Back in Anger*, the kitchen is literally a part of the set.

The cultural backdrop to the play is the rise and fall of the British empire. The beginning of the twentieth century saw the peak of power and influence of British colonialism. By the 1950's, two World Wars, which devastated the British economy, and the rise of the United States as the new world military and political power meant that the British empire had entered a steep decline. Jimmy Porter is representative of an entire culture that remained nostalgic for this past glory. He idealizes the worthy causes of the past even while he mocks those who cannot understand why the times have changed as much as they have.

*Look Back in Anger* is a play that appeared in a time of crucial transition from Britain's Victorian past into the modern twentieth century. Jimmy's rage and anger is his expression of pent-up emotion and his need for life in a world that has become listless and uninteresting. That anger became a symbol of the rebellion against the political and social malaise of British culture. His anger is destructive to those around him and the psychological violence of the play received a great deal of criticism. Critics today agree, however, that the play is central to an understanding of British life in the twentieth century and, thus, a crucial piece of literature in the British canon.

## 5. Summary

*Look Back in Anger* begins in the attic flat apartment of Jimmy Porter and Alison Porter. The setting is mid-1950's small town England. Jimmy and Alison share their apartment with Cliff Lewis, a young working class man who is best friends with Jimmy. Cliff and Jimmy both come from a working class background, though Jimmy has had more education than Cliff. They are in business together running a sweet-stall. Alison comes from a more prominent family and it is clear from the beginning that Jimmy resents this fact.

The first act opens on a Sunday in April. Jimmy and Cliff are reading the Sunday papers while Alison is ironing in a corner of the room. Jimmy is a hot tempered young man and he begins to try and provoke both Cliff and Alison. He is antagonistic towards Cliff's working class background and makes fun of him for his low intelligence. Cliff is good natured and takes the antagonism. Jimmy attempts to provoke his wife, Alison, by making fun of her family and her well-heeled life before she married him. Jimmy also seems to display a nostalgia for England's powerful past. He notes that the world has entered a "dreary" American age, a fact he begrudgingly accepts. Alison tires of Jimmy's rants and begs for peace. This makes Jimmy more fevered in his insults. Cliff attempts to keep peace between the two and this leads to a playful scuffle between the two. Their wrestling ends up running into Alison, causing her to fall down. Jimmy is sorry for the incident, but Alison makes him leave the room.

After Jimmy leaves, Alison confides to Cliff that she is pregnant with Jimmy's child, though she has not yet told Jimmy. Cliff advises her to tell him, but when Cliff goes out and Jimmy re-enters the room, the two instead fall into an intimate game. Jimmy impersonates a stuffed bear and Alison impersonates a toy squirrel. Cliff returns to tell Alison that her old friend, Helena Charles, has called her on the phone. Alison leaves to take the call and returns with the news that Helena is coming to stay for a visit. Jimmy does not like Helena and goes into a rage in which he wishes that Alison would suffer in order to know what it means to be a real person. He curses her and wishes that she could have a child only to watch it die.

Two weeks later, Helena has arrived and Alison discusses her relationship with Jimmy. She tells of how they met and how, in their younger days, they used to crash parties with their friend Hugh Tanner. Jimmy maintains an affection for Hugh's mother, though his relationship with Hugh was strained when Hugh left to travel the world and Jimmy stayed to be with Alison. Jimmy seems to regret that he could not leave, but he is also angry at Hugh for abandoning his mother. Helena inquires about Alison's affectionate relationship with Cliff and Alison tells her that they are strictly friends.

Cliff and Jimmy return to the flat and Helena tells them that she and Alison are leaving for church. Jimmy goes into an anti-religious rant and ends up insulting Alison's family once again. Helena becomes angry and Jimmy dares her to slap him on the face, warning her that he will slap her back. He tells her of how he watched his father die as a young man. His father had been injured fighting in the Spanish Civil War and had returned to England only to die shortly after. Alison and Helena begin to leave for church and Jimmy feels betrayed by his wife.

A phone call comes in for Jimmy and he leaves the room. Helena tells Alison that she has called Alison's father to come get her and take her away from this abusive home. Alison relents and says that she will go when her father picks her up the next day. When Jimmy returns, he tells Alison that Mrs. Tanner, Hugh's mother, has become sick and is going to die. Jimmy decides to visit her and he demands that Alison make a choice of whether to go with Helena or with him. Alison picks up her things and leaves for church and Jimmy collapses on the bed, heartbroken by his wife's decision.

The next evening Alison is packing and talking with her father, Colonel Redfern. The Colonel is a soft spoken man who realizes that he does not quite understand the love that exists between Jimmy and Alison. He admits that the actions of him and his wife are partly to blame for their split. The Colonel was an officer in the British military and served in India and he is nostalgic for his time there. He considers his service to be some of the best years of his life. Alison observes that her father is hurt because the present is not the past and that Jimmy is hurt because he feels the present is only the past. Alison begins to pack her toy squirrel, but then she decides not to do so.
Helena and Cliff soon enter the scene. Alison leaves a letter for Jimmy explaining why she has left and she gives it to Cliff. After Alison leaves, Cliff becomes angry and gives the letter to Helena, blaming her for the situation. Jimmy returns, bewildered that he was almost hit by Colonel Redfern's car and that Cliff pretended not to see him when he was walking by on the street. He reads Alison's letter and becomes very angry. Helena tells him that Alison is pregnant, but Jimmy tells her that he does not care. He insults Helena and she slaps him, then passionately kisses him.

Several months pass and the third act opens with Jimmy and Cliff once again reading the Sunday papers while Helena stands in the corner ironing. Jimmy and Cliff still engage in their angry banter and Helena's religious tendencies have taken the brunt of Jimmy's punishment. Jimmy and Cliff perform scenes from musicals and comedy shows but when Helena leaves, Cliff notes that things do not feel the same with her here. Cliff then tells Jimmy that he wants to move out of the apartment. Jimmy takes the news calmly and tells him that he has been a loyal friend and is worth more than any woman. When Helena returns, the three plan to go out. Alison suddenly enters.

Alison and Helena talk while Jimmy leaves the room. He begins to loudly play his trumpet. Alison has lost her baby and looks sick. Helena tells Alison that she should be angry with her for what she has done, but Alison is only grieved by the loss of her baby. Helena is driven to distraction by Jimmy's trumpet playing and demands that he come into the room. When he comes back in, he laments the fact that Alison has lost the baby but shrugs it off. Helena then tells Jimmy and Alison that her sense of morality -- right and wrong -- has not diminished and that she knows she must leave. Alison attempts to persuade her to stay, telling her that Jimmy will be alone if she leaves.

When Helena leaves, Jimmy attempts to once again become angry but Alison tells him that she has now gone through the emotional and physical suffering that he has always wanted her to feel. He realizes that she has suffered greatly, has become like him, and becomes softer and more tender towards her. The play ends with Jimmy and Alison embracing, once again playing their game of bear and squirrel.

Character List

**Jimmy Porter**

Jimmy Porter is the play's main character. He is the "Angry Young Man" who expresses his frustration for the lack of feelings in his placid domestic life. Jimmy can be understood as both a hero for his unfiltered expressions of emotion and frustration in a culture that propagated unemotional resignation. He can also be considered a villain for the ways in which his anger proves to be destructive to those in his life.

**Cliff Lewis**

Cliff is a friend to both Jimmy and Alison. Cliff lives with them in their attic apartment. He is a working class Welsh man and Jimmy makes sure to often point out that he is "common" and uneducated. Cliff believes this is the reason that Jimmy keeps him as a friend. He is quite fond of Alison and they have a strange physically affectionate relationship throughout the play.

**Alison Porter**

Alison Porter is Jimmy's wife. She comes from Britain's upper class, but married into Jimmy's working class lifestyle. The audience learns in the first act that she is pregnant with Jimmy's child. Jimmy's destructive anger causes her great strain and she eventually leaves him. Her child miscarries and she comes back to Jimmy to show him that she has undergone great suffering.

**Helena Charles**

Helena Charles is Alison's best friend. She lives with them in their apartment while visiting for work. Helena is from an upper class family. She is responsible for getting Alison to leave Jimmy. She and Jimmy then begin an affair. Her sense of morality leads her to leave. She can be considered the play's moral compass.

**Colonel Redfern**

Colonel Redfern is Alison's father. He represents Britain's great Edwardian past. He was a military leader in India for many years before returning with his family to England. He is critical of Jimmy and Alison's relationship, but accepts that he is to blame for many of their problems because of his meddling in their affairs.

## 6. Themes

**The Angry Young Man**

Osborne's play was the first to explore the theme of the "Angry Young Man." This term describes a generation of post-World War II artists and working class men who generally ascribed to leftist, sometimes anarchist, politics and social views. According to cultural critics, these young men were not a part of any organized movement but were, instead, individuals angry at a post-Victorian Britain that refused to acknowledge their social and class alienation.

Jimmy Porter is often considered to be literature's seminal example of the angry young man. Jimmy is angry at the social and political structures that he believes has kept him from achieving his dreams and aspirations. He directs this anger towards his friends and, most notably, his wife Alison.

**The Kitchen Sink Drama**

Kitchen Sink drama is a term used to denote plays that rely on realism to explore domestic social relations. Realism, in British theater, was first experimented with in the late nineteenth and early twentieth century by such playwrights as George Bernard Shaw. This genre attempted to capture the lives of the British upper class in a way that realistically reflected the ordinary drama of ruling class British society.

According to many critics, by the mid-twentieth century the genre of realism had become tired and unimaginative. Osborne's play returned imagination to the Realist genre by capturing the anger and immediacy of post-war youth culture and the alienation that resulted in the British working classes. *Look Back in Anger* was able to comment on a range of domestic social dilemmas in this time period. Most importantly, it was able to capture, through the character of Jimmy Porter, the anger of this generation that festered just below the surface of elite British culture.

**Loss of Childhood**

A theme that impacts the characters of Jimmy and Alison Porter is the idea of a lost childhood. Osborne uses specific examples -- the death of Jimmy's father when Jimmy was only ten, and how he was forced to watch the physical and mental demise of the man -- to demonstrate the way in which Jimmy is forced to deal with suffering from an early age. Alison's loss of childhood is best seen in the way that she was forced to grow up too fast by marrying Jimmy. Her youth is wasted in the anger and abuse that her husband levels upon her.

Osborne suggests that a generation of British youth has experienced this same loss of childhood innocence. Osborne uses the examples of World War, the development of the atomic bomb, and the decline of the British Empire to show how an entire culture has lost the innocence that other generations were able to maintain.

**Real Life**

In the play, Jimmy Porter is consumed with the desire to live a more real and full life. He compares this burning desire to the empty actions and attitudes of others. At first, he generalizes this emptiness by criticizing the lax writing and opinions of those in the newspapers. He then turns his angry gaze to those around him and close to him, Alison, Helena, and Cliff.

Osborne's argument in the play for a real life is one in which men are allowed to feel a full range of emotions. The most real of these emotions is anger and Jimmy believes that this anger is his way of truly living. This idea was unique in British theater during the play's original run. Osborne argued in essays and criticisms that, until his play, British theater had subsumed the emotions of characters rendering them less realistic. Jimmy's desire for a real life is an attempt to restore raw emotion to the theater.

**Sloth in British Culture**

Jimmy Porter compares his quest for a more vibrant and emotional life to the slothfulness of the world around him. It is important to note that Jimmy does not see the world around him as dead, but merely asleep in some fundamental way. This is a fine line that Osborne walks throughout the play. Jimmy never argues that there is a nihilism within British culture. Instead, he sees a kind of slothfulness of character. His anger is an attempt to awaken those around him from this cultural sleep.

This slothfulness of emotion is best seen in the relationship between Alison and Cliff. Alison describes her relationship with Cliff as "comfortable." They are physically and emotionally affectionate with each other, but neither seems to want to take their passion to another level of intimacy. In this way, their relationship is lazy. They cannot awaken enough passion to consummate their affair. Jimmy seems to subconsciously understand this, which is the reason he is not jealous of their affection towards one another.

**The Rise and Fall of the British Empire**

The character of Colonel Redfern, Alison's father, represents the decline of and nostalgia for the British Empire. The Colonel had been stationed for many years in India, a symbol of Britain's imperial reach into the world. The Edwardian age which corresponded to Britain's height of power, had been the happiest of his life. His nostalgia is representative of the denial that Osborne sees in the psyche of the British people. The world has moved on into an American age, he argues, and the people of the nation cannot understand why they are no longer the world's greatest power.

**Masculinity in Art**

Osborne has been accused by critics of misogynistic views in his plays. Many point to *Look Back in Anger* as the chief example. These critics accuse Osborne of glorifying young male anger and cruelty towards women and homosexuals. This is seen in the play in specific examples in which Jimmy Porter emotionally distresses Alison, his wife, and delivers a grisly monologue in which he wishes for Alison's mother's death.

Osborne, however, asserts that he is attempting to restore a vision of true masculinity into a twentieth century culture that he sees as becoming increasingly feminized. This feminization is seen in the way that British culture shows an "indifference to anything but immediate, personal suffering." This causes a deadness within which Jimmy's visceral anger and masculine emotion is a retaliation against.

## 7. Look Back in Anger Quotes and Analysis

"People like me don't get fat. I've tried to tell you before. We just burn everything up."

This quote, spoken by Jimmy, is a glimpse into his character and his anger. Though his quote, literally, is meant to convey the kind of physical energy that Jimmy has in his everyday life, on another level the quote is meant to suggest the kind of destruction that Jimmy brings to the lives of those around him. The word "burn" has a double meaning in this way; on the one hand it is meant to represent a burning of physical, bodily energy. On the other hand, it is meant to convey destruction -- how Jimmy's frenetic quest for real life destroys the lives of those to whom he is closest.

"If you could have a child, and it would die...if only I could watch you face that."

This quote, spoken by Jimmy, demonstrates his vicious anger towards Alison. The quote is an example of dramatic irony as well as foreshadowing. It foreshadows future events in the play in which Alison loses her pregnancy, Jimmy's child, to miscarriage. It is dramatic irony in that the audience already knows that Alison is pregnant when Jimmy speaks this line, but he does not realize this fact. Without the suffering of losing something close and important to her, Jimmy sees Alison as an incomplete or unborn person, incapable of true emotion and life.

"Oh heavens, how I long for a little ordinary human enthusiasm. Just enthusiasm -- that's all. I want to hear a warm, thrilling voice cry out Hallelujah!...Hallelujah! I'm alive!"

Jimmy is primarily concerned with a way to live a real, enthusiastic, and emotional life. The desire for emotion expresses itself in his anger towards his wife and their domestic existence. This quote is a reference to black gospel religion which Jimmy associates with things such as jazz music (Jimmy also plays the trumpet, a similar reference). This use of a religious phrase should be compared to Jimmy's antagonism towards traditional English Anglicanism, which Jimmy firmly rejects. It should also be noted that most of the play occurs on a Sunday, suggesting that in Jimmy's righteous anger is a modern attempt to find the kind of real life that traditional religion sought to convey for its believers.

"If you've no world of your own, it's rather pleasant to regret the passing of someone else's. I must be getting sentimental. But I must say it's pretty dreary living in the American Age -- unless you're an American of course."

Jimmy is a character that is not of his age. He derides his father-in-law for being an old "Edwardian." This Edwardian Age is a reference to the reign of King Edward VII in Great Britain, a brief period at the beginning of the 20th century where a fashionable British elite influenced the art and fashions of continental Europe. Jimmy, however, is also in many ways a sentimental Edwardian. He views himself as a descendant of this more fashionable age, stuck in a time in which the world around him does not understand his passions and motivations. In comparison, the American Age is "dreary," meaning that the fashion and culture of this previous age has been wiped away by the rise of America as a great world superpower.

"It's what he would call a question of allegiances, and he expects you to be pretty literal about them. Not only about himself and all the things he believes in, his present and his future, but his past as well."

In this quote, Alison attempts to explain Jimmy's character and motivations to her friend Helena. Jimmy's allegiances are a result of his intense character and desire for raw emotion. Casual acquaintances will not do for him. Such relationships lack power and realness. Jimmy expects all of those he cares about to be committed to those things as well. Alison's break with Jimmy occurs when she goes to church with Helena, a rejection of Jimmy's secularism. He takes this action very personally as an affront to him.

"Jimmy went into battle with his axe swinging round his head -- frail, and so full of fire. I had never seen anything like it. The old story of the knight in shining armour *(sic)* -- except that his armour didn't really shine very much."

This quote, spoken by Alison, is her attempt to explain to Helena why she fell so madly in love with Jimmy as a young girl. This quote allows Osborne to explore the idea of chivalry, an idea found in medieval English literature and a trait that has deep roots in English mythology. Osborne is questioning whether the idea of male chivalry can still exist in a feminized modern world. While Jimmy is compared to a knight, he is described as a poor knight with dull armor, and his modern chivalrous acts seems to do more harm than good.

"One day, when I'm not longer spending my days running a sweet-stall, I may write a book about us all. ...It'll be recollected in fire, and blood. My blood."

Jimmy expresses his anger through the use of language that could be almost considered biblical. Jimmy uses the word "blood" throughout the play to describe his relationships. "Blood" signifies sacrifice and violence. Jimmy feels as though he has sacrificed much of his life to a lifeless relationship with Alison. Thus, this quote illustrates the way in which Jimmy feels he has shed his blood for his dull domestic life. This quote also demonstrates the violence that Jimmy expresses to Alison. Though there is never any real physical violence in the play, the metaphorical use of the word "blood" demonstrates the deep psychological violence that both Allison and Jimmy perpetrate on each other.

"Why, why, why, why do we let these women bleed us to death?"

This is Jimmy's expression of his antagonism towards women. Jimmy uses imagery throughout the play to describe women in often mean-spirited and sometimes violent ways. Some critics of the play accuse Osborne of misogynistic language and. Osborne wrote later that much of the play was a reaction to what he saw as a feminized world in which personal suffering is glorified and the idea of male nobility is diminished. Again, the idea of blood is used here. Jimmy feels as though the idea of shedding blood for the love and attention of women has replaced the idea of shedding blood for a noble sacrifice.
"I suppose people of our generation aren't able to die for good causes any longer. We had all that done for us, in the thirties and the forties, when we were still kids. ...There aren't any good, brave causes left."

This quote demonstrates a central theme of the play: the way in which past and present are intertwined. Jimmy often sees himself as a product of Britain's great past, its empires and conquests. In this quote, Jimmy uses the specific example of the British defeat of the Nazi's in World War II as Britain's last great cause. In this past, he sees a noble and fulfilling state of being. The present, on the other hand, is an unfulfilling time in which the British age has been replaced by a "dreary" American age. Jimmy is, of course, idealizing the past, yet this nostalgia causes him to feel even more anger and dissatisfaction towards the present.

"There are cruel steel traps lying about everywhere, just waiting for rather mad, slightly satanic, and very timid little animals."

In this quote, one of the last lines of the play, Jimmy and Alison have reverted to their fantasy world of bears and squirrels. This is a fitting ending for the play since both Jimmy and Alison have come to a point in which they can no longer face the pain and intense emotion of real life. This is what JImmy calls the "pain of being alive." Escape, therefore, is the only option left for them. They retreat into a fantasy world. This world is the only stable option within which these characters can live. Through this idea, Osborne suggests that fiction is the only answer to the cruelties of real life.

# 8. The Birthday Party

## 9. The Birthday Party Summary

**Act I**

The play begins in the living room of a seaside boardinghouse in 1950s England. Petey, the boardinghouse owner, and his wife Meg, both in their sixties, sit at the living room table and engage in tepid conversation while eating breakfast. Meg is an inquisitive character who peppers Petey with repeated questions concerning his food, his job, etc. Petey informs his wife that two gentlemen will soon arrive to stay at the boardinghouse; he met them the night before. Meg is flustered by the news at first, but quickly recovers to promise she will have a room ready for them.

She then calls out to Stanley Webber, their boarder who is asleep upstairs. When he doesn't answer, she goes upstairs to fetch him, and then returns a bit disheveled but amused. Stanley, a bespectacled, unkempt, surly man in his thirties, soon follows. Petey and Stanley speak of mundane topics while Meg prepares cornflakes and fried bread for Stanley's breakfast. After Petey leaves for work, the atmosphere changes. Meg flirts with Stanley, who jokingly calls her "succulent" while criticizing her housework. When Meg becomes affectionate, he rudely pushes her away and insults her. Meg then informs him that two gentlemen are coming. The news unsettles Stanley, who has been the only boarder for years. He accuses Meg of lying, but she insists that she speaks the truth.

Before Meg leaves to shop, Lulu, a young girl in her twenties, arrives with a package. Meg instructs Lulu to keep the package from Stanley, and then she leaves. Lulu and Stanley chat for a little while, mostly about Stanley's lack of enthusiasm and his appearance. Lulu calls

him a “wash out” and then quickly exits. Stanley washes his face in the kitchen, and then leaves by the kitchen door. In the meantime, Goldberg and McCann enter the living room. They are the two gentlemen who had requested rooms for the evening.
It becomes immediately apparent that Goldberg and McCann have come under mysterious circumstances to “finish a job.” The job in question seems to be Stanley, though details are scarce. Goldberg reassures McCann that they are at the right house, and that this job will cause no more stress than their jobs usually cause them. Goldberg rambles on about his uncle until Meg arrives, and introductions are made.

Goldberg’s sweet temperament and suave demeanor soon set Meg at ease. Goldberg asks after Stanley, and Meg tells him that Stanley was once a successful pianist but had to give it up. Meg also reveals that it is Stanley’s birthday, and Goldberg suggests they have a party. Thrilled with the idea, Meg shows the gentlemen to their room. Later, Stanley returns to the living room as Meg arrives to put the groceries away. She tells him about the two gentlemen, and Stanley is visibly upset to learn Goldberg’s name. To cheer him up, Meg suggests he open his birthday present, even though Stanley insists that it is not his birthday. To humor Meg, he opens the package and finds a toy drum with drumsticks. He hangs the drum around his neck and parades around the table beating the drum merrily until his rhythm becomes erratic and chaotic. He beats the drum possessively and looms over Meg with a crazed expression on his face.

**Act II**
Later that same evening, McCann sits at the living room table shredding a newspaper into five equal strips. Stanley arrives, and the two men awkwardly greet one another. McCann, in a calm tone of voice, congratulates Stanley on his birthday, and says it is an honor to be invited to his party. Stanley replies that he wants to spend the evening alone and tries to leave, but McCann will not let him.

Stanley sits at the table and touches one of the newspaper strips, which upsets McCann. Stanley speaks of his past, and suggests he has never been one to cause trouble. Stanley insists that he has met McCann before, and grows upset when McCann denies the connection. Stanley wants to know why he and Goldberg are at the boardinghouse, and grows frantic when McCann claims they are there on a short holiday. Desperate, Stanley grabs McCann’s arm, who violently hits him off. Shocked into submission, Stanley calms himself and speaks of his love for Ireland, for its people, its sunsets, and its police. He asks McCann to accompany him to a nearby pub, but is interrupted when Petey and Goldberg enter the room.

Petey introduces Stanley to Goldberg, and then leaves. The situation in the room grows tense, as Goldberg yammers on about his past. Despite Goldberg’s soothing words, Stanley remains on edge and refuses to sit down when McCann asks him to. It is not McCann's threats that convince him to sit, but rather Goldberg's quiet insistence.

After Stanley submits, Goldberg and McCann interrogate him about his past - they accuse him of betraying their “organization,” of killing his wife, of leaving his bride at the altar, of being a waste of space, and more. Stanley answers at first, but is soon struck dumb by the sheer number of questions being thrown at him. The questions grow progressively more

ridiculous and nonsensical. Finally, Stanley hits Goldberg in the stomach. McCann and Stanley threaten each other with chairs, but are cooed back into civility when Meg arrives, beating Stanley's toy drum. She is dressed for his birthday party. Goldberg compliments her, and the tense atmosphere quickly dissipates as Meg makes a moving tribute to Stanley in a toast while McCann flashes a torch in Stanley's face like a spotlight. Lulu arrives, and Goldberg gives a second toast which includes more reminiscing.

The party begins in earnest. Lulu and Goldberg flirt, while Meg and McCann speak of Ireland. Stanley sits alone at the table until Meg suggests they all play blind man's buff. During Stanley's turn, he is blindfolded by McCann, who breaks his glasses and puts the toy drum in his path so that Stanley's foot smashes through it. When Stanley reaches Meg, he begins to strangle her. Goldberg and McCann pull him off, but then the lights suddenly go out. In the darkness, the two gentlemen cannot find Lulu, who has screamed and fainted. McCann shines his flashlight on the table to discover Stanley standing over Lulu as though about to sexually assault her. He giggles manically as the men slowly approach him and the curtain closes.

**Act III**

The next morning, Petey sits at the living room table reading a newspaper, while Meg frets about having no breakfast food left. Her memory is hazy from the night before, and she forgets that Petey was not there as she tries to remember what happened. When she leaves to shop, she sees Goldberg's car in the driveway, and grows frightened. Petey calms her down.

As Meg prepares to leave again, Goldberg enters the room and sits at the table. Meg asks him about the car, but he ignores her. She finally leaves. Petey asks Goldberg about Stanley, and Goldberg explains that Stanley suffered a nervous breakdown, and needs to be taken to a doctor whom Goldberg knows. Petey wants to see Stanley when he wakes, despite Goldberg's insistence that he should simply leave for work.

McCann enters with two suitcases, and tells Goldberg that Stanley is trying to fit his broken glasses into his eyes. When Petey suggests a way to fix the glasses and offers to fetch a doctor, Goldberg dismisses him. Petey departs to tend to his peas, insisting he be told when Stanley wakes, and Goldberg sits slumped over the table.

McCann demands they expedite the job, but Goldberg ignores him. Angry, McCann shakes Goldberg's chair and calls him "Simey," which causes the latter to attack him. McCann pacifies Goldberg, who then admits he feels poorly and is confused by the feeling. He tells McCann about his father and about his own principles on family, and finally makes a strange request by asking McCann to blow into his mouth twice. McCann does so without question, and Goldberg is calmed.

Lulu enters, and McCann leaves them alone. Lulu accuses Goldberg of having taken sexual advantage of her the night before. They argue over blame until McCann reenters and tells Lulu to confess her sins. Startled by this bizarre turn of events, Lulu flees. McCann then leaves to fetch Stanley, who enters cleanly shaven and nicely dressed. The two men seem to take pity on Stanley, and Goldberg promises to buy him new glasses. In a reprise of the

interrogation from Act II, they pepper Stanley with gentler questions and comments. Goldberg asks Stanley if he wants to leave with them, but Stanley can only muster gurgling sounds. They begin to exit with Stanley, but Petey arrives and tells them to stop. Menacingly, they ask Petey if he wants to accompany them. Petey allows the two men to take Stanley away, but before they leave, he cries out “Stan, don’t let them tell you what to do!”

Afterward, Petey returns to the living room table and picks up his newspaper. Meg arrives and asks if Stanley has come down to breakfast yet. Petey lies and tells her Stanley is still sleeping.

## 10. The Birthday Party Character List

**Petey**

Petey Boles is the owner of the rundown boarding house in which the play takes place. He is 60 years old and married to Meg. Petey works a deckchair attendant at an unspecified seaside resort near his home on the shores of England.

As the play continues, Petey’s character is revealed to be more astute. He realizes that Goldberg and McCann are more insidious than they seem, and probably knows of his wife and Stanley's strange relationship. While Petey seems to know quite a lot more than he lets on, he ultimately reveals that he will do little to compromise the comfortable, delusional existence he shares with Meg.

**Meg**

Meg Boles is a kind woman who helps run the boardinghouse. She is sixty years old and married to Petey in a seemingly childless marriage. Absentminded and simplistic, Meg often asks repetitive questions and constantly requires attention. While she does carry on a sexually-tinged relationship with Stanley, Meg lives a rather humdrum life that allows her to maintain certain delusions about her attractiveness and popularity, delusions which she works hard to protect even as the play goes to darker places.

**Goldberg**

Nat Goldberg, also called “Simey” and “Benny,” is a Jewish gentleman who works for an unnamed "organization" that has employed him to take Stanley away from the boardinghouse. He is defined by his outwardly polite and suave demeanor, which stands in stark contrast to that of his associate McCann. However, he ultimately reveals an angry, violent streak beneath this suave demeanor.

Goldberg's problems seem to be connected to his past - he is nostalgic about family, and waxes poetic about the old days. To what extent these delusions explain and/or feed his anger and violence are left to the reader's imagination.

**McCann**

Dermot McCann is an Irish member of an unnamed "organization" that has hired him to take Stanley away from the boardinghouse. Unlike Goldberg, who uses words and charm to his advantage, McCann is a paragon of bodily aggression. He lacks much social skill, and is something of a simpleton.

**Lulu**

A young woman in her twenties, Lulu is an acquaintance of Meg's and a visitor to the boardinghouse. She is childish and flirtatious, and though she seems initially interested in Stanley, she is easily attracted to Goldberg's charms. Her girlish qualities become ironically unsettling after she is sexually assaulted.

**Stanley**

Stanley Webber is ostensibly the protagonist of the play. He is the only boarder at the Boles's boardinghouse, and is initially defined by laziness, unkemptness, and smug cruelty towards Meg. The many details of his past are never confirmed - he might be a musician, might have been famous, etc. - although there is a sense that he has sins unatoned for. His aggressive depression transitions into a nervous breakdown when Goldberg and McCann arrive, until he is nothing but a bumbling idiot in Act III.

## 11. The Birthday Party Themes

**Confusion and Chaos**

A key element of "the absurdist theater" is its focus on confusion and chaos. In *The Birthday Party*, these elements manifest constantly, especially through its characters.

The primary way in which the themes manifest are through the ambiguities of lives and pasts. Stanley has some sort of mysterious past that deserves a violent reckoning, but nobody really provides its details. When Stanley describes his past to Meg in Act I, there is even the sense that he himself is confused about its particulars. Goldberg's name and past seem shrouded in mystery and delusion, and Meg convinces herself to believe things about her life that are clearly not true. Further, because of these type of confusions, the situation devolves into total chaos. From the moment Goldberg and McCann arrive, the audience can sense that the simplicity of the boardinghouse is about to be compromised, and indeed, the chaos at the end of Act II confirms it.

The only truth of *The Birthday Party* is that there is no truth, only chaos and confusion from which we make order if we choose.

**Complacency**

Perhaps the most pessimistic aspect of *The Birthday Party* is that the only alternative Pinter gives to chaos and confusion is a life of apathy and complacency. The play's opening sets this up - Petey and Meg reveal a comfortable but bland life in which they talk in pleasantries and ignore anything of substance. Stanley might be more aggressive than they are, but he too has clearly chosen the safety of complacency, as he makes no effort to change his life. His lethargic lifestyle reflects the attraction comfort has for him. When Goldberg and McCann arrive, they challenge this complacent lifestyle until the whole place falls into chaos. Ultimately, Petey chooses to refortify the complacency of the boardinghouse over bravely fighting for Stanley; neither choice is truly attractive.

**Language**

The precision Pinter employs in crafting his rhythmic silences is enough to justify language as a major theme, but he moreover reveals how language can be used as a tool. Each of the characters uses language to his or her advantage. In effect, characters manipulate words to

suggest deeper subtexts, so that the audience understands that true communication happens beneath language, and not through words themselves. When Stanley insults Meg, he is actually expressing his self-hatred and guilt. Goldberg is a master of language manipulation - he uses speeches to deflect others questions, to redirect the flow of conversation, or to reminisce about past events. His words are rarely wasted. Meg, on the other hand, repeats herself, asking the same questions over and over again in a bid for attention. Even though she often speaks without affectation, her words mask a deep neurosis and insecurity. These are just a few examples of instances in which language is used not to tell the story, but to suggest that the story is hidden. In essence, language in *The Birthday Party* is a dangerous lie.

**Atonement**

One of the great ironies in this play is that it uses what appears to be a fairly undramatic, realistic setting which nevertheless hides a surplus of guilt. The theme of atonement runs throughout the play. Stanley's past is never detailed, but he is clearly a guilty man. He is vague about his past, and does anything to distract Goldberg and McCann. He does not wish to atone for whatever he did, but is forced to do so through torture. Goldberg, too, wishes to avoid whatever sins torture him but cannot fully escape them; his mood in Act III shows that he is plagued by feelings he does not wish to have. In the end, all of the characters are like Lulu, who flees when McCann offers her a chance to confess - everyone has sins to atone for, but nobody wants to face them.

**Nostalgia**

Perhaps most fitting for a contemporary audience who would see this play as something of a period piece, the theme of nostalgia is implicit but significant in *The Birthday Party*. Goldberg, particularly, is taken by nostalgia, frequently waxing poetic both on his own past and on the 'good old days' when men respected women. Certainly, Goldberg tells some of these stories to contrast with the way Stanley treats women, but they also suggest a delusion he has, a delusion that breaks down when he himself assaults Lulu between the second and third acts. He idealizes some past that he cannot live up to.

Other characters reveal an affection for nostalgia as well. During the birthday party, Meg and Lulu both speak of their childhoods. However, their nostalgic feelings have darker sides. Meg remembers being abandoned, whereas Lulu's memories of being young lead Goldberg to bounce her perversely on his knee. Similarly, the characters play blind man's bluff specifically because it makes them nostalgic, but the sinister side of such nostalgia is inescapable in the stage image of Stanley preparing to rape Lulu. Nostalgia is lovely to feel, the play seems to suggest, but more insidious in its complexities.

**Violence**

*The Birthday Party* is full of violence, both physical and emotional, overall suggesting that violence is a fact of life. The violence is doubly affecting because the setting seems so pleasant and ordinary. Most of the men show their potential for violence, especially when provoked. Stanley is cruel and vicious towards Meg, but much more cowardly against other men. Both McCann and Goldberg have violent outbursts no matter how hard they try to contain themselves. Their entire operation, which boasts an outward civility, has an insidious purpose, most violent for the way it tortures Stanley slowly to force him to

nervous breakdown. In both Acts II and III, they reveal how language itself can be violent in the interrogation scenes.
Much of the violence in the play concerns women. Stanley not only intimidates Meg verbally, but he also prepares to assault Lulu. Goldberg in fact does assault Lulu. Finally, the threat of violence is ever-present in the play. Even before we realize that disaster might come, we can feel the potential through the many silences and tense atmosphere.

**Sex**

Sexual tension is present throughout the entire play, and it results in tragic consequences. Meg and Stanley have a strange, possible sexual relationship that frees him to treat her very cruelly. The ugliness of his behavior is echoed when Goldberg calls him a "mother defiler" and "a lecher." In fact, Goldberg suggests that Stanley's unnamed sin involves his poor treatment of a woman. Lulu seems interested in Stanley as well, but is quickly attracted to Goldberg in Act II. Her innocence makes her prey to men's sexuality. Her openness leads to two consecutive sexual assaults, and yet she is nevertheless upset to learn that Goldberg is leaving. All in all, it is a strange, perverse undercurrent throughout the play - sex is acknowledged as a fact of life, and yet does not ever reveal positive aspects of the characters.

# WAITING FOR GODOT



## 12. Biography of Samuel Beckett

Samuel Beckett was born near Dublin, Ireland, on April 13, 1906 into a Protestant, middle class home. His father was a quantity surveyor and his mother worked as a nurse. At the age of 14 he was sent to the same school that Oscar Wilde attended.

Beckett is known to have commented, "I had little talent for happiness." This was evidenced by his frequent bouts of depression, even as a young man. He often stayed in

bed until late in the afternoon and hated long conversations. As a young poet he apparently rejected the advances of James Joyce's daughter and then commented that he did not have feelings that were human. This sense of depression would show up in much of his writing, especially in Waiting for Godot where it is a struggle to get through life.
Samuel Beckett moved to Paris in 1926 and met James Joyce. He soon respected the older writer so much that at the age of 23 he wrote an essay defending Joyce's magnum opus to the public. In 1927, one year later, he won his first literary prize for his poem entitled "Whoroscope." The essay was about the philosopher Descartes meditating on the subject of time and about the transiency of life. Beckett then completed a study of Proust which eventually led him to believe that habit was the "cancer of time." At this point Beckett left his post at Trinity College and traveled.

Beckett journeyed through Ireland, France, England, and Germany and continued to write poems and stories. It is likely that he met up with many of the tramps and vagabonds who later emerged in his writing, such as the two tramps Estragon and Vladimir in Waiting for Godot. On his travels through Paris Beckett would always visit with Joyce for long periods.

Beckett permanently made Paris his home in 1937. Shortly after moving there, he was stabbed in the street by a man who had begged him for money. He had to recover from a perforated lung in the hospital. Beckett then went to visit his assailant, who remained in prison. When Beckett demanded to know why the man had attacked him, he replied "Je ne sais pas, Monsieur." This attitude about life comes across in several of the author's later writings.

During World War II Beckett joined the underground movement in Paris to resist the Germans. He remained in the resistance until 1942 when several members of his group were arrested. Beckett was forced to flee with his French-born wife to the unoccupied zone. He only returned in 1945 after Paris was liberated from the Germans. He soon reached the pinnacle of his writing career, producing Waiting for Godot, Eleutheria, Endgame, the novels Malloy, Malone Dies, The Unnamable, and Mercier et Camier, two books of short stories, and a book of criticism.
Samuel Beckett's first play was Eleutheria and involved a young man's efforts to cut himself loose from his family and social obligations. This has often been compared to Beckett's own search for freedom. Beckett's great success came on January 5, 1953, when Waiting for Godot premiered at the Theatre de Babylone. Although critics labeled the play "the strange little play in which 'nothing happens,'" it gradually became a success as reports of it spread through word of mouth. It eventually ran for four hundred performances at the Theatre de Babylone and was heralded with critical praise from dramatists such as Tennessee Williams, Jean Anouilh, Thornton Wilder, and William Saroyan. Saroyan even remarked that, "It will make it easier for me and everyone else to write freely in the theatre." An interesting production of Waiting for Godot took place when some actors from the San Francisco Actor's Workshop performed the play at the San Quentin penitentiary for over fourteen hundred convicts in 1957. The prisoners immediately identified with both Vladimir and Estragon about the pains of waiting for life to end, and the struggle of the daily existence. The production was perhaps the most successful ever. Beckett's second masterpiece. Endgame, premiered on April 3, 1957 at the Royal Court Theatre in London.

All of Beckett's major works were written in French. He believed that French forced him to be more disciplined and to use the language more wisely. However, Waiting for Godot was eventually translated into the English by Beckett himself.

Samuel Beckett also became one of the first absurdist playwrites to win international fame. His works have been translated into over twenty languages. In 1969 he received the Nobel Prize for Literature, one of the few times this century that almost everyone agreed the recipient deserved it. He continued to write until his death in 1989, but towards the end he remarked that each word seemed to him "an unnecessary stain on silence and nothingness."

## 13. Waiting for Godot

Waiting for Godot qualifies as one of Samuel Beckett's most famous works. Originally written in French in 1948, Beckett personally translated the play into English. The world premiere was held on January 5, 1953, in the Left Bank Theater of Babylon in Paris. The play's reputation spread slowly through word of mouth and it soon became quite famous. Other productions around the world rapidly followed. The play initially failed in the United States, likely as a result of being misbilled as "the laugh of four continents." A subsequent production in New York City was more carefully advertised and garnered some success.
Waiting for Godot incorporates many of the themes and ideas that Beckett had previously discussed in his other writings. The use of the play format allowed Beckett to dramatize his ideas more forcefully than before, and is one of the reasons that the play is so intense.

Beckett often focused on the idea of "the suffering of being." Most of the play deals with the fact that Estragon and Vladimir are waiting for something to alleviate their boredom. Godot can be understood as one of the many things in life that people wait for.
The play has often been viewed as fundamentally existentialist in its take on life. The fact that none of the characters retain a clear mental history means that they are constantly struggling to prove their existence. Thus the boy who consistently fails to remember either of the two protagonists casts doubt on their very existence. This is why Vladimir demands to know that the boy will in fact remember them the next day.

Waiting for Godot is part of the Theater of the Absurd. This implies that it is meant to be irrational. Absurd theater does away with the concepts of drama, chronological plot, logical language, themes, and recognizable settings. There is also a split between the intellect and the body within the work. Thus Vladimir represents the intellect and Estragon the body, both of whom cannot exist without the other.

## 14. Waiting for Godot Character List

### Estragon

Estragon is one of the two protagonists. He is a bum and sleeps in a ditch where he is beaten each night. He has no memory beyond what is immediately said to him, and relies on Vladimir to remember for him. Estragon is impatient and constantly wants to leave Vladimir, but is restrained from leaving by the fact that he needs Vladimir. It is Estragon's idea for the bums to pass their time by hanging themselves. Estragon has been compared to a body without an intellect, which therefore needs Vladimir to provide the intellect.

**Vladimir**

Vladimir is one of the two protagonists. He is a bum like Estragon, but retains a memory of most events. However, he is often unsure whether his memory is playing tricks on him. Vladimir is friends with Estragon because Estragon provides him with the chance to remember past events. Vladimir is the one who makes Estragon wait with him for Mr. Godot's imminent arrival throughout the play. Vladimir has been compared to the intellect which provides for the body, represented by Estragon.

**Lucky**

Lucky is the slave of Pozzo. He is tied to Pozzo via a rope around his neck and he carries Pozzo's bags. Lucky is only allowed to speak twice during the entire play, but his long monologue is filled with incomplete ideas. He is silenced only by the other characters who fight with him to take of his hat. Lucky appears as a mute in the second act.

**Pozzo**

Pozzo is the master who rules over Lucky. He stops and talks to the two bums in order to have some company. In the second act Pozzo is blind and requires their help. He, like Estragon, cannot remember people he has met. His transformation between the acts may represent the passage of time.

**A boy**

The boy is a servant of Mr. Godot. He plays an identical role in both acts by coming to inform Vladimir and Estragon the Mr. Godot will not be able to make it that night, but will surely come the next day. The boy never remembers having met Vladimir and Estragon before. He has a brother who is mentioned but who never appears.

## 15. Waiting for Godot Summary of Act I

The setting is in the evening on a country road with a single tree present. Estragon is trying to pull off his boot, but without success. Vladimir enters and greets Estragon, who informs him that he has spent the night in a ditch where he was beaten. With supreme effort Estragon succeeds in pulling off his boot. He then looks inside it to see if there is anything there while Vladimir does the same with his hat.

Vladimir mentions the two thieves who were crucified next to Christ. He asks Estragon if he knows the Gospels. Estragon gives a short description of the maps of the Holy Land at which point Vladimir tells him he should have been a poet. Estragon points to his tattered clothes and says he was. Vladimir continues with his narrative about the two thieves in order to pass the time.

Estragon wants to leave but Vladimir forces him to stay because they are both waiting for Godot to arrive. Neither of the two bums knows when Godot will appear, or even if they are at the right place. Later it is revealed that they do not even know what they originally asked Godot for.

Estragon gets bored of waiting and suggests that they pass the time by hanging themselves from the tree. They both like the idea but cannot decide who should go first. They are

afraid that if one of them dies the other might be left alone. In the end they decide it is safer to wait until Godot arrives.

Estragon asks Vladimir whether they still have rights. Vladimir indicates that they got rid of them. He then fears that he hears something, but it turns out to be imaginary noises. Vladimir soon gives Estragon a carrot to eat.

Pozzo and Lucky arrive. Lucky has a rope tied around his neck and is carrying a stool, a basket, a bag and a greatcoat. Pozzo carries a whip which he uses to control Lucky. Estragon immediately confuses Pozzo with Godot which gets Pozzo upset.
Pozzo spends several minutes ordering Lucky around. Lucky is completely silent and obeys like a machine. Pozzo has Lucky put down the stool and open the basket of food which contains chicken. Pozzo then eats the chicken and throws away the bones. Lucky stands in a stooped posture holding the bags after each command has been completed and appears to be falling asleep.

Estragon and Vladimir go to inspect Lucky who intrigues them. They ask why he never puts his bags down. Pozzo will not tell them, so Estragon proceeds to ask if he can have the chicken bones that Pozzo has been throwing away. Pozzo tells him that they technically belong to Lucky. When they ask Lucky if he wants them, he does not reply, so Estragon is given the bones.

Pozzo eventually tells them why Lucky hold the bags the entire time. He thinks it is because Lucky is afraid of being given away. While Pozzo tells them why Lucky continues to carry his bags, Lucky starts to weep. Estragon goes to wipe away the tears but receives a terrible kick in the shin.

Pozzo then tells them that he and Lucky have been together nearly sixty years. Vladimir is appalled at the treatment of Lucky who appears to be such a faithful servant. Pozzo explains that he cannot bear it any longer because Lucky is such a burden. Later Vladimir yells at Lucky that it is appalling the way he treats such a good master.

Pozzo then gives an oratory about the night sky. He asks them how it was and they tell him it was quite a good speech. Pozzo is ecstatic at the encouragement and offers to do something for them. Estragon immediately asks for ten francs but Vladimir tells him to be silent. Pozzo offers to have Lucky dance and then think for them.

Lucky dances for them and when asked for an encore repeats the entire dance step for step. Estragon is unimpressed but almost falls trying to imitate it. They then make Lucky think. What follows is an outpouring of religious and political doctrine which always starts ideas but never brings them to completion. The three men finally wrestle Lucky to the ground and yank off his hat at which point he stops speaking. His last word is, "unfinished."

The men then spend some effort trying to get Lucky to wake up again. He finally reawakens when the bags are placed in his hand. Pozzo gets up to leave and he and Lucky depart the scene. Vladimir and Estragon return to their seats and continue waiting for Godot.

A young boy arrives having been sent by Mr. Godot. Estragon is outraged that it took him so long to arrive and scares him. Vladimir cut him off and asks the boy if he remembers him. The boy says this is his first time coming to meet them and that Mr. Godot will not be able to come today but perhaps tomorrow. The boy is sent away with the instructions to tell Mr. Godot that he has seen them. Both Estragon and Vladimir discuss past events and then decide to depart for the night. Neither of them moves from his seat.

## 16. Waiting for Godot Summary of Act II

The setting is the next day at the same time. Estragon's boots and Lucky's hat are still on the stage. Vladimir enters and starts to sing until Estragon shows up barefoot. Estragon is upset that Vladimir was singing and happy even though he was not there. Both admit that they feel better when alone but convince themselves they are happy when together. They are still waiting for Godot.
Estragon and Vladimir poetically talk about "all the dead voices" they hear. They are haunted by voices in the sounds of nature, especially of the leaves rustling. Vladimir shouts at Estragon to help him not hear the voices anymore. Estragon tries and finally decides that they should ask each other questions. They manage to talk for a short while.

Estragon has forgotten everything that took place the day before. He has forgotten all about Pozzo and Lucky as well as the fact that he wanted to hang himself from the tree. He cannot remember his boots and thinks they must be someone else's. For some reason they fit him now when he tries them on. The tree has sprouted leaves since the night before and Estragon comments that it must be spring. But when Vladimir looks at Estragon's shin, it is still pussy and bleeding from where Lucky kicked him.
Soon they are done talking and try to find another topic for discussion. Vladimir finds Lucky's hat and tries it on. He and Estragon spend a while trading hats until Vladimir throws his own hat on the ground and asks how he looks. They then decide to play at being Pozzo and Lucky, but to no avail. Estragon leaves only to immediately return panting. He says that they are coming. Vladimir thinks that it must be Godot who is coming to save them. He then becomes afraid and tries to hide Estragon behind the tree, which is too small to hide him.

The conversation then degenerates into abusive phrases. Estragon says, "That's the idea, let's abuse each other." They continue to hurl insults at one another until Estragon calls Vladimir a critic. They embrace and continue waiting.

Pozzo and Lucky enter but this time Pozzo is blind and Lucky is mute. Lucky stops when he sees the two men. Pozzo crashes into him and they both fall helplessly in a heap on the ground. Vladimir is overjoyed that reinforcements have arrived to help with the waiting. Estragon again thinks that Godot has arrived.

Vladimir and Estragon discuss the merits of helping Pozzo get off the ground where he has fallen. When Vladimir asks how many other men spend their time in waiting, Estragon replies that it is billions. Pozzo in desperation offers to pay for help by offering a hundred francs. Estragon says that it is not enough. Vladimir does not want to pick up Pozzo because then he and Estragon would be alone again. Finally he goes over and tries to pick

him up but is unable to. Estragon decides to leave but decides to stay when Vladimir convinces him to help first and then leave.

While trying to help Pozzo, both Vladimir and Estragon fall and cannot get up. When Pozzo talks again Vladimir kicks him violently to make him shut up. Vladimir and Estragon finally get up, and Pozzo resumes calling for help. They go and help him up. Pozzo asks who they are and what time it is. They cannot answer his questions.

Estragon goes to wake up Lucky. He kicks him and starts hurling abuses until he again hurts his foot. Estragon sits back down and tries to take off his boot. Vladimir tells Pozzo his friend is hurt.

Vladimir then asks Pozzo to make Lucky dance or think for them again. Pozzo tells him that Lucky is mute. When Vladimir asks since when, Pozzo gets into a rage. He tells them to stop harassing him with their time questions since he has no notion of it. He then helps Lucky up and they leave.

Vladimir reflects upon the fact that there is no truth and that by tomorrow he will know nothing of what has just passed. There is no way of confirming his memories since Estragon always forgets everything that happens to him.

The boy arrives again but does not remember meeting Estragon or Vladimir. He tells them it is his first time coming to meet them. The conversation is identical in that Mr. Godot will once again not be able to come but will be sure to arrive tomorrow. Vladimir demands that the boy be sure to remember that he saw him. Vladimir yells, "You're sure you saw me, you won't come and tell me to-morrow that you never saw me!"

The two bums decide to leave but cannot go far since they need to wait for Godot. They look at the tree and contemplate hanging themselves. Estragon takes off his belt but it breaks when they pull on it. His trousers fall down. Vladimir says that they will hang themselves tomorrow unless Godot comes to save them. He tells Estragon to put on his trousers. They decide to leave but again do not move.

## 17. Waiting for Godot Analysis of the Play

Although very existentialist in its characterizations, Waiting for Godot is primarily about hope. The play revolves around Vladimir and Estragon and their pitiful wait for hope to arrive. At various times during the play, hope is constructed as a form of salvation, in the personages of Pozzo and Lucky, or even as death. The subject of the play quickly becomes an example of how to pass the time in a situation which offers no hope. Thus the theme of the play is set by the beginning:
Estragon: Nothing to be done.

Vladimir: I'm beginning to come round to that opinion.

Although the phrase is used in connection to Estragon's boots here, it is also later used by Vladimir with respect to his hat. Essentially it describes the hopelessness of their lives.

A direct result of this hopelessness is the daily struggle to pass the time. Thus, most of the play is dedicated to devising games which will help them pass the time. This mutual desire also addresses the question of why they stay together. Both Vladimir and Estragon admit to being happier when apart. One of the main reasons that they continue their relationship is that they need one another to pass the time. After Pozzo and Lucky leave for the first time they comment:

V: That passed the time.

E: It would have passed in any case.

And later when Estragon finds his boots again:

V: What about trying them.

E: I've tried everything.

V: No, I mean the boots.

E: Would that be a good thing?

V: It'd pass the time. I assure you, it'd be an occupation.

Since passing the time is their mutual occupation, Estragon struggles to find games to help them accomplish their goal. Thus they engage in insulting one another and in asking each other questions.

The difficulty for Beckett of keeping a dialogue running for so long is overcome by making his characters forget everything. Estragon cannot remember anything past what was said immediately prior to his lines. Vladimir, although possessing a better memory, distrusts what he remembers. And since Vladimir cannot rely on Estragon to remind him of things, he too exists in a state of forgetfulness.

Another second reason for why they are together arises from the existentialism of their forgetfulness. Since Estragon cannot remember anything, he needs Vladimir to tell him his history. It is as if Vladimir is establishing Estragon's identity by remembering for him. Estragon also serves as a reminder for Vladimir of all the things they have done together. Thus both men serve to remind the other man of his very existence. This is necessary since no one else in the play ever remembers them:

Vladimir: We met yesterday. (Silence) Do you not remember?

Pozzo: I don't remember having met anyone yesterday. But to-morrow I won't remember having met anyone to-day. So don't count on me to enlighten you.

Later on the same thing happens with the boy who claims to have never seen them before. This lack of reassurance about their very existence makes it all the more necessary that they remember each other.

Estragon and Vladimir are not only talking to pass the time, but also to avoid the voices that arise out of the silence. Beckett's heroes in other works are also constantly assailed by voices which arise out of the silence, so this is a continuation of a theme the author uses frequently:

E: In the meantime let's try and converse calmly, since we're incapable of keeping silent.

V: You're right, we're inexhaustible.

E: It's so we won't think.

V: We have that excuse.

E: It's so we won't hear.

V: We have our reasons.

E: All the dead voices.

V: They make a noise like wings.

E: Like leaves.

V: Like sand.

E: Like leaves.

Silence.

V: They all speak at once.

E: Each one to itself.

Silence.

V: Rather they whisper.

E: They rustle.

V: They murmur.

E: The rustle.

Silence.

V: What do they say?

E: They talk about their lives.

V: To have lived is not enough for them.

E: They have to talk about it.

V: To be dead is not enough for them.

E: It is not sufficient.

Silence.

V: They make a noise like feathers.

E: Like leaves.

V: Like ashes.

E: Like leaves.

Long silence.

V: Say something!

One of the questions which must be answered is why the bums are suffering in the first place. This can only be answered through the concept of original sin. To be born is to be a sinner, and thus man is condemned to suffer. The only way to escape the suffering is to repent or to die. Thus Vladimir recalls the thieves crucified with Christ in the first act:

V: One of the thieves was saved. It's a reasonable percentage. (Pause.) Gogo.

E: What?

V: Suppose we repented.

E: Repented what?

V: Oh . . . (He reflects.) We wouldn't have to go into the details.

E: Our being born?

Failing to repent, they sit and wait for Godot to come and save them. In the meantime they contemplate suicide as another way of escaping their hopelessness. Estragon wants them to hang themselves from the tree, but both he and Vladimir find it would be too risky. This apathy, which is a result of their age, leads them to remember a time when Estragon almost succeeded in killing himself:

E: Do you remember the day I threw myself into the Rhone?

V: We were grape harvesting.

E: You fished me out.

V: That's all dead and buried.

E: My clothes dried in the sun.

V: There's no good harking back on that. Come on.

Beckett is believed to have said that the name Godot comes from the French "godillot" meaning a military boot. Beckett fought in the war and so spending long periods of time waiting for messages to arrive would have been commonplace for him. The more common interpretation that it might mean "God" is almost certainly wrong. Beckett apparently stated that if he had meant "God," he would have written "God".

The concept of the passage of time leads to a general irony. Each minute spent waiting brings death one step closer to the characters and makes the arrival of Godot less likely. The passage of time is evidenced by the tree which has grown leaves, possibly indicating a change of seasons. Pozzo and Lucky are also transformed by time since Pozzo goes blind and Lucky mute.

There are numerous interpretation of Waiting for Godot and a few are described here:

Religious interpretations posit Vladimir and Estragon as humanity waiting for the elusive return of a savior. An extension of this makes Pozzo into the Pope and Lucky into the faithful. The faithful are then viewed as a cipher of God cut short by human intolerance. The twisted tree can alternatively represent either the tree of death, the tree of life, the tree of Judas or the tree of knowledge.

Political interpretations also abound. Some reviewers hold that the relationship between Pozzo and Lucky is that of a capitalist to his labor. This Marxist interpretation is understandable given that in the second act Pozzo is blind to what is happening around him and Lucky is mute to protest his treatment. The play has also been understood as an allegory for Franco-German relations.

An interesting interpretation argues that Lucky receives his name because he is lucky in the context of the play. Since most of the play is spent trying to find things to do to pass the time, Lucky is lucky because his actions are determined absolutely by Pozzo. Pozzo on the other hand is unlucky because he not only needs to pass his own time but must find things for Lucky to do.

# Riders to the Sea



## Biography of John Millington Synge

J.M. Synge is one of the most famous Irish playwrights, and one of the founders of Ireland's Abbey Theatre.

Edmund John Millington (J.M.) Synge was born April 10, 1871, in rural Rathfarnham, outside Dublin, Ireland. He was the youngest of five children, and never knew his father John Hatch, a barrister who died of smallpox when Synge was a year old. Hatch's death left mother Kathleen to raise the family, which she did following the example of her own strict and insular Irish Protestant upbringing.

Synge attended private school for four years. He was a shy boy, often in ill health. His sick days interfered with his schoolwork, so his mother hired a home tutor for him. Without the company of other boys, Synge roamed the surrounding countryside and became an avid naturalist. At the age of 16, he snuck Darwin's *Origin of Species* into his bedroom, and lost his Christian faith upon reading of evolution. Synge felt this loss of faith as a shameful betrayal of his mother.
Synge did share a love of music with his mother, however. Both she and her son Samuel played the piano and concertina. Inspired by their example, Synge began violin lessons, discovering a natural ability and an excellent ear. From 1888-1892, he attended both the Royal Irish Academy of Music and Trinity College, Dublin. He did not enjoy university life, as his upbringing had left him ill prepared for so much socializing.

Synge graduated from Trinity with a focus on languages, and received music scholarships from the Academy. He then traveled to Germany to continue playing the violin. It was in Germany that Synge realized he wished to pursue writing rather than music.

In 1896, Synge moved to Paris to study languages. While there, he met fellow Irishman and poet William Butler Yeats. Synge's relationship with Yeats would prove to be one of the most influential of his life. Yeats saw in Synge a kindred imaginative spirit, someone passionate not merely about literature, but especially about *Irish* literature. Yeats and Synge met regularly with Maud Gonne, the incendiary Irish revolutionary figure, and with Lady Augusta Gregory. Yeats, Lady Gregory, and Synge would later form The Abbey Theatre in Dublin.

In the meantime, Yeats encouraged Synge to travel to the Aran Islands in order to learn the Gaelic language and acquaint himself with Irish folk. Prior to taking the trip, Synge was diagnosed with Hodgkins disease and underwent an operation to remove a neck tumor. Sickly but inspired, Synge then took the trip and gathered the material for the majority of his canon. The terrain, the sea, the area's history, the villagers' stories, and, most of all, the villagers' languages — whether Gaelic or their own strand of English — set Synge's imagination alight.

In 1902, Synge joined W.B. Yeats and Lady Gregory in forming the Irish National Theatre Society in Dublin. In 1904, it was renamed The Abbey Theatre. The Abbey produced all of Synge's plays: *In the Shadow of the Glen* (1903), *Riders to the Sea* (1904), *The Well of the Saints* (1905), and *Playboy of the Western World* (1907). None of his plays received particularly good reviews, and *The Playboy of the Western World* was largely reviled, sparking riots and arrests during its one-week run. Synge's plays, with their colorful, profane imagery and their violent subject matter, offended the sensibilities of Protestant elite and Catholic Nationalists alike.

During this period, Synge courted The Abbey's lead actress, Molly Allgood, who starred as Pegeen Mike in *The Playboy*. The two were engaged, but Synge's health took a fatal turn in 1908. He underwent another operation to remove a tumor, but died on March 24, 1909 in Dublin, at the age of 37. 1910 saw the publication of Synge's *Collected Works*, featuring both his produced plays and the unfinished *Deidre of the Sorrows*.

**Riders to the Sea**

Synge's one-act play *Riders to the Sea* (1904) deals with the lives and manners of a cross-section of humanity. While the play is concerned with local matters, Synge represents these matters with a universal interest. In other words, Synge, like many great writers such as Thomas Hardy, universalizes the experience of a particular individual or a group of individuals. Synge focuses our attention upon that aspect of life that absorbs the interest of humanity in general; his play has a timeless appeal because its content draws attention to something that is essentially human. The relevance of *Riders to the Sea* lies in its intensity of appeal and in its sense of contemporaneity.

At the urging of his friend William Butler Yeats, Synge had traveled to spend a few days in the Aran Islands to study the lives of their people. Synge was attracted to the way of life of Aran islanders; when he heard a story of a body of a man washed up on the island of Inishmaan, he decided to frame the story and the experiences of the commoners as a play. Thus *Riders to the Sea* was born.

There are two themes working parallel to each other in this play. One is the sea, the theme that grounds all of the play's proceedings. The other is omen and foreboding, and the readers can predict from the title that something ominous is going to happen regarding to the sea. From the very beginning, we see Maurya, the protagonist, talking about her sons who sacrificed their lives to the seas; the whole play revolves around fears concerning the sea. Maurya also believes in omens: when Bartley, Maurya's only living son, leaves their house without her blessing, Maurya has a terrible vision and soon learns of Bartley's death at sea. In this way, the two themes amalgamate with each other and create a perfect setting for *Riders to the Sea.*

The play was first performed by the Irish National Theatre Company at Molesworth Hall, Dublin, on February 25th, 1904. The few attendees enjoyed the play, but the critical response was mixed (interestingly, it was the only play of Synge's that was not attacked by audience members during his lifetime). When it traveled to London the next month and to other countries in subsequent years it received a warmer welcome; Yeats said “Synge’s foreign success is worth more to us than would be the success of any other of our people.” The play would actually grow in estimation in the eyes of Irish critics over time.

British composer Ralph Vaughn Williams adapted the play into an opera in 1925. The libretto was in English, which was rare at the time. It was performed first on November 30th, 1937 at the Royal College of Music in London. There have been a least three other operas written and performed that take the play as its subject. There are also two films, one produced in 1935 (Synge’s own bereaved fiancée acted in it) and the other in 1987.

## 18. Riders to the Sea Summary

The play, set on an island off the coast of Ireland, begins with Nora bringing in a small bundle with her and telling Cathleen that these may be the clothes of their brother Michael. The young priest told her a body of a drowned man was found at Donegal, and the body might be Michael's. The sisters are scared to open the bundle of clothes because they do not want their mother, Maurya, to know: Michael has been missing for a week and the family had already lost five men to the sea. They hide the bundle in the turf loft of the cottage.

Maurya is prepared for the funeral for Michael, with whiteboards for his coffin ready at the cottage. She enters the kitchen; she is a woman who is seen lamenting all the time and worrying that her sons will never come back from the sea. Maurya, Nora, and Cathleen discuss the last son, Bartley, who is also planning to go the sea to sell the family horses so they could get some money. Nora and Cathleen are convinced that Bartley should go to the fair at Galway to sell the animals, while Maurya is still hoping that the Priest will not allow him to go in such dangerous tides.

Bartley enters the cottage looking for a new piece of rope. Maurya tries to stop him, but he says he wants to make a halter for the horses; clearly Bartley plans to go to the sea. Maurya again tries to dissuade him by showing him the whiteboards for Michael. Paying no heed, Bartley changes his clothes, asks his sisters to take care of the sheep, and leaves without receiving any blessings from his mother. It is a tradition in Ireland that the son receives the blessings of his mother before going anywhere, but Maurya breaks this fashion.

Bartley leaves with a red mare and a grey pony tied behind. Cathleen then notices that he has not taken any food and tells Maurya to walk down to the well to give Bartley his food and the blessings. Maurya leaves using a stick that Michael brought, lamenting over how in her family, the old ones never leave anything behind for their heirs, despite that being the general custom.

Once Maurya is gone, the girls retrieve the bundle of clothes from the loft to check if they are Michael's. Nora realizes that the stockings are truly Michael's, because she recognizes her own stitching on them. They count the number of stitches and arrive at the conclusion that Michael was dead and buried.

The sisters hide the clothes again because they think that Maurya will be returning in a good mood since she got the chance to bless Bartley; however, Maurya comes back more distressed than ever. She tells her daughters that she saw Michael on the grey pony; she could not bless Bartley due to the shock. To calm her down, Nora and Cathleen show Maurya the clothes and tell her that Michael has had a clean burial. Maurya's laments are interrupted when islanders bring the body of Bartley into the cottage and tell the women that the grey pony knocked Bartley into the sea, where he drowned.

Maurya gets on her knees near Bartley's body and sprinkles holy water on him. She finally resigns herself to her fate as she claims that she will finally sleep at night because she no longer has anyone to worry about: all the men of her family have died to the sea. The whiteboards that were supposed to be used for Michael's coffin will now be used to bury Bartley. Maurya prays that the souls of her husband, her husband's father, and four sons may rest in peace, and the curtains are drawn.

**Riders to the Sea Character List**

**Maurya**

Maurya has given birth to six sons during her life on the coastal island lying of at the mouth of Ireland's Galway Bay. Four of them are already dead, along with their father and grandfather. She is old and poor and fears that the extended and uncharacteristic absence of her son Michael means he is about to added to the list of her deceased loved ones. As if worrying that Michael has drowned weren't enough stress, she also doesn't appear to be very successful at persuading her other remaining son, Bartley, from crossing over to the mainland in a bid to deal away a couple of horses. In the end, Maurya has only her daughters to help with the cold comfort of knowing that there are no more men in her life for the sea to take from her. She feels at last a sense of peace and serenity now that her greatest anxiety has been lifted.

**Bartley**

Bartley is the youngest of Maurya's six sons; when Michael's death is confirmed, he steps up to become the family's sole financial support. His means of supporting the family is what gives the play its title: he rides horses out to sea and to the steamer ship, which must lay anchored far offshore; the horses are sold at a fair on the mainland. Maurya refuses to give Bartley her blessing after having a vision of his impending death.

**Cathleen**

Cathleen is the eldest of Maurya's daughter. Cathleen is 20 years old; she commiserates with Bartley's position and is scornful of her mother's superstitions. In contrast to the somewhat mystical bent of her mother, who is given to lamentations and omens, Cathleen is pure practicality in action, which is a great necessity when living with someone like Maurya.

**Nora**

The youngest member of the clan, Nora is much more patient with mother's penchant for self-pity than her oldest sister is. At the same time, she provides a great sounding board for Cathleen to express her contrarian views.

**The Priest**

The priest is never actually seen on stage, but his presence is so vital to the story that he must be considered at least as important a character as Nora. It is the priest who delivers the message through Nora that Maurya must put her faith and trust in a God that would never allow every last one of her sons to die while she is still alive. He is younger and more modern than Maurya.

**Riders to the Sea Themes**

**The Power of the Sea**

The power of the sea the central theme of the text. The Sea is right outside the cottage door, volatile, unpredictable, and implacable. It has taken almost all of Maurya's male family members and is poised to take the rest of them as well. It defies rationality and even God; the Holy Water is a pitiful reflection of it. Difference characters relate to the sea in different ways. For Nora and Cathleen, the sea only matters in terms of losing family members; for Maurya, it is the great enemy; for the young priest, it is of little importance; for Bartley, it is dangerous but is a way of life. The potency of the sea in this play is Synge's meditation on the power of nature and of suffering.

**Catholicism vs. Paganism**

The play is steeped in traditional Irish Catholicism: there are priests, blessings, Holy Water, etc. However, traditional Catholicism rests, somewhat uneasily, side-by-side with more pagan religious elements. Maurya doesn't heed the priest's empty, naive platitudes so much as she looks to the stars and other natural phenomena for warnings and signs. She knows more about the island than he does; she is skeptical of his outsider status and he is never even seen within the boundaries of the cottage. She heeds the power of the sea much more than she heeds God. It is only at the end of the text when her battle with the sea is over that she can peacefully submerge herself back into the rituals and rites of her Catholic faith.

**Tradition vs. Modernity**

Maurya represents tradition; her children and the young priest, on the other hand, represent modernity. Maurya knows everything about the island and its particulars; her religion is more paganistic than Catholic, her views stubbornly held. She does not embrace new ideas of comforting Catholicism or commerce. She only knows her small life, which is clear when she is wary to even leave her cottage.

Maurya's children, in contrast, deride her "senseless" behavior and rigid adherence to her beliefs. They look beyond the island to the wider world; the young priest is the connection between these two spaces. The tensions between the two worlds most impact Bartley, who understands the sea is dangerous but feels its pull because he is a man and must secure a livelihood for his family. At the end of the play it is clear modernity will ultimately dominate, but it is also clear that Maurya's worldview is still important and has much to teach the younger generation.

**Gender Roles**

The characters in the text rigidly adhere to the prescribed gender roles of their time and place. Nora is relatively voiceless, while Cathleen is the keeper of the hearth. Maurya is the quintessential Mother, caring only for her family and the extension of its lineage: she worries, chastises, and mourns; her sons are her main focus. She is not at all comforted by the fact that her daughters remain living; they are essentially useless in terms of what they can bring to the family. As the man of the family at the opening of the play, Bartley's role is clear: to provide for his family. Cathleen articulates that "it is the life of a young man to be going on the sea" (64). He is the provider and Maurya's fears that he will die are also related to the problems they will face: "It's hard set we'll be surely the day you're drownd'd with the rest. What way will I live and the girls with me, and I an old woman looking for the grave?" (64.)

## Riders to the Sea Symbols, Allegory and Motifs

**Symbol: The White Boards**

The white boards for the coffin, which remain onscreen for the duration of the play, symbolize the imminence of Bartley's death.

**Symbol: Water on the Bodies**

The water on the bodies of Patch and Bartley is, as critic Denis Donoghue writes, "a symbol of the way by which Death comes, from the sea straight to the house, to the family."

**Symbol: Spinning Wheel and Hearth**

Cathleen is always involved with the spinning wheel and the hearth, which is appropriate given the fact that these two things are symbol's of women's work and the pervasiveness of gendered labor. This is notable in a play so concerned with the traditional separation by gender–Bartley is the provider, Cathleen is the baker, Michael was a provider, etc.

**Symbol: Rope**

The rope symbolizes Bartley's imminent death: as he fashions a halter for the horse, he is actually fashioning a halter for his own neck. That rope was always intended to lower a coffin into the grave, and now that grave will be Bartley's.

**Symbol: Holy Water**

The Holy Water symbolizes purification, sanctity, and traditional Catholicism. It is benevolent water, anodyne water; it stands in contrast to the powerful water of the sea.

# YOGI VEMANA UNIVERSITY,KADAPA

**DEPARTMENT OF ENGLISH**

**M.A ENGLISH LITERATUREAND LANGUAGE**

**SEMESTER - I**

**ENGYVU103: FICTION – I**

**With Effect From 2021-22 (Under NEP 2020 )**

## Program Educational Objectives (PEOs)

- After going through the prescribed text students will be able to understand to study the conditions of the sensibility in novels.
- To study the characterization from an ironic point of view.
- To study the narrative plot. To study the sturdy rich yet fateful Agrarian background of narrative world.
- To study the historical background of war and aesthetic background.

**UNIT – 1**

**Background Study : Literary History – Genres – Movements – Ideas Trends – Concepts**

**UNIT – II**

**1 .Daniel Defoe : Robinson Crusoe**

**2. Henry Fielding : Joseph Andrews**

**UNIT – III**

**3. Jane Austen : Pride and Prejudice**

**4. George Eliot : The Mill on the Floss.**

**UNIT – IV**

**5. Charles Dickens : A Tale of Two Cities**

**6. Thomas Hardy : Tess of D'Urbervilles**

## ProgramSpecificOutcomes(PSOs)

- Familiarizes with literary history, genres, movements, ideas and concepts of the early British Fiction.
- Studies selected fiction of the writers.

## Suggested Reading:


- The Cambridge History of English Literature
- The English Novel: A Short Critical History – Walter Allen, Penguin Books, Harmondsworth
- An Introduction to the English Novel Vols. 1 & 2 – Arnold Kettle, Hutchinson & Co.
- The Literature of the Victorian Era – Hugh Walker, S. Chand & Co., New Delhi
- The English Novel – David Skelton 6. The Growth of the English Novel – Richard Church


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# *Fiction*
# *UNIT 1*

## *A BRIEF OUTLINE OF THE HISTORY OF ENGLISH NOVEL*

The "novel" represents a great variety of writing that has in common only the attribute of being extended work of fiction in prose. It is different from the short story and the novelette as itsmagnitude pets a greater variety of characters., complication of plot, 'wider development of milieus, more sustained exploration of character and motives. As a long narrative in prose, it is. also different from the long narratives in the poetry of Chaucer, Spenser and Milton, as it has increasingly occupied amore important place. 'Within these limits, the novel includes such diverse works as Richardson's Pamela Sterne' s TristramShandy. Dickens' Pickwick Papers. Joyce's Ulysses and Kafka's The Trial. In the European languages, "roman" means novel, derived from the medieval term, romance. The English word "novel" is derived from the Italian term, novella, (which .literally means "a little thing"), with a short tale in prose.

Boccaccio's Decameron is the best example for this. However, long narrative romances in prose were written by great writers as second and third centuries A, D, dealing with separated lovers, who after perilous adventures and ; sensational escapes, are happily reunited at the end. Aethiopica by Heliodorus and the pastural narrative, Dalphins and Chole by Longinus are the best examples, for this. During the Elizabethan times, Thomas Lodge's Rosalynde and Sir Philip Sidney's Arcadia belong to this category of pastoral romances of the Greeks. In the XVI century, the picaresque narrative Shred in Spatn, as Gilblas by Le Sage was the most popular romance, * * Picaro" is Spanish name for *rogue" ,dealing with many adventures of this rogue hero.

After all these initial and not fully undefined attempts at the emergence of the modern novel form, Defoe' s narratives Flanders Moll Robinson Crusoe is the beginning of the novel forming in English literature. Moll Flanders and Robinson Crusoe are a sequence of episodes held together "as they happen to one person. Richardson' s Pamela or Virtue Rewarded 1( 1740) i is sthe first English "novel of character" or "Psychological novel". This is the story ofa sentimental but shrewd young woman, who by prudently safeguarding her chastity, succeeds in n becoming the wife of a wild -young gentleman, instead of his servant girl Pamela, like its siiccessor Clarissa is an epistlory novel. 'The, narrative is s

conveyed entirely by an exchange of letters. The realistic novel is character zed as the fictional attempt to give effect to realism. This realistic mode rooted in the XVIII century writers as Defoe, and Fielding achieved a hi gh development in the master-novelists of XIX century, including Jane Austen, George Eliot, Anthony Trollope, and William Dean Howells ; in England and America; Stendnal, Balzac and Flaubert in France andTurgeneyand Tolstoyi in Russia. In contrast, the prose romance has the Precursors of the chivalric romance of the Middle 2 Ages. and the Gothic novel of the later XVII century. As the characters are sharply delithated as heroes or villains, the plot is about an adventure and quest 'motif ' for an ideal or the pursuit of an enemy. ex:- Walter Scott's Rob Roy and Alexander Dumas' The Three Musketeers, Emily Bronte's Wauthering Heights and in America, the prose romances of James Fennimore Cooper.

In XVII century, along with the realistic fiction of Richardson, we haye the fiction of Defoe and Fieldin g, Joseph Andrews appeared in 1742, two years after Richardson's Pamela. He was a man of prose, in mind as well as in medium, to make him the master of the all of the novel: for in his hands, the novel became an excellent depiction of the bourgeois sensibility of the XVII century, His training as a dramatist served him, clarifying situation, and giving significance to every incident. He is endowed with vitality, common sense, and a command of facts and (he faculty for marshalling them. He brought the whole world as we see it. Within the scope of this now rapidly maturing literary form. Smollett' s first novel Roderick Random, without loving kindness and nl satire. This is the first novel about the sea and life and aboard ship. Lawrence Sterne revolted against the massive sense of proportion imposed by his contemporary Fielding. TristramShandy is part of an experiment with the author is carrying out with the grandfather clock and the connubial habits of the elder Mr.Shandy. Sterne's seria with words and time, equivalent in another art- with the adventures of Monet and Renoir in the use of paint and light, carried the medium of English prose still further towards its present day vastness. of scope. His vocabulary way enormous and he used it consciously to fill the vacuum. He was the first novelist to be aware of duration asa positive factor. In his hands, it became a critic of human nature and tamer a pessimistic one. The general effect of Sterne's TristramShandy and Asentimenialjoumey is depressing one. Steme was a master of the art of being personal, Fanny Burney (1752-1840 is the first woman novelist in English literature.

**The Victorian Novel**

## 19. George Meredith

George Meredith is the last link connecting the present generation with midVitoria literature. Born of Portsmouth in February, 1828, he was of Welsh and Irish descent and proud of his double. Celtic origin. His first poem was published in ER — in 1851.

His novel The Oudeal of Richard vere met with cold reception, His next work E sublle, incisive. He is very good a painting the contemporary English manners, as he combines convention with primal instinct. He has given a faithful picture of the Englishman, with his merits and defects. Asasatitist he is successful at de-men and women, He drew women, English ‘manners, irbutas with Browning, I of the brave heart, He insists on the Greek quality- self-Its very hardness yields (ia joy one has to face it. Heisa simulating novelist, an arresting poet, and most importantly, agpiritual, a great influence in English life and letters.

## 2. Thomas Hardy: 840.1928):

Thomas Hardy is a poet, as well as a novelist. Hi novels include under the green wood tree far from the madding crowd. Mayor of Casterbridge and jude the obscure, His great distinction is in his putting on one side the romantic point of view and adopting a thoughtful and scientific observant method of creating the life of the country-side. He is an interpreter of Nature,the descriptive artist; as an interpreter of character --the analytical arts; as an interpreter of life-the philosophic artist. His love of the Barth is intensely ,personal and local. As a story teller, he has rich inventive power with a sense of symmetrical development.

He never loses sight of the harmonious, while his temperament has conditioned his pessimistic cutlook ¢ on if. In his outlook ¢ on life there are two qualities, essentially insistent- his sense of law and’s sense of pity. He believes that a spiritual logic governs men’ 's lives and the Greeks called it Nemesis. While George Eliot Considers this logic of life from the moral point of: view, as eibution, Hardy i is affected by the i injustice of its workings. His sense of pity is more acute than that of any modem writer.

## 3. George Bliot:

Mary annevans (George Eliot) was born as South Farm ‘in '1819. At first; she accepted with doxility her, father’ s views. After her father’ s death, she settled i in London and

become assistant editor of the Westminister Review: It is the essential womanliness in her thatgives vitality -| to her best work. Her delicate iitituition, taste and woman's power of sympathy give: greamess to das Bede, The Mil on the Floss ard Silas Marner: She was the first novelist tolay her stress wholly d apon character rather upon incident to make her stories spiritual rathérithan physical draniis She is a Philosopher in her story- telling. She acts as chorus to her chiatatters. In her characterization, there iishoth subtlety: and variety. She has a wide range of observation; generous sympiifis and power of detachment, trained by scientific study helped to give breath and variety her mwas. Imellectually, she was in touch with the most extreme of the: rationtilist critics, but she never outgrew her puritanism. It was t00 deeply ingrained in her character. Like
Carlyle, she

retained the austere ethical idealism of the Puritan long after she had discarded the dogmatic expression of her faith. In her life, the puritan side was always warring against the pagon side." Radical and revolutionary in her outlook on life, she yet, shrank from revolt. Agnostic | in her views, she was nonctheless mystical in her sympathies. Her other important novels are Felix Holt and Middlemarch. Her stories depict the tragedy of lost opportunities

### 3. Charles Dickens :

Charles Dickens( 18 12-1870-) was born at Landport in Hampshire. His important works are Hard Times, A Tale of Two Cities, Great Expectations , besides many other works. He is a good story teller of the London life. He could moralise while he made readers laugh. His strength and weakness lie in his hypersensitive imagination. His character or scene is amazingly like and amazingly unlike anything in our own experience. His Huriout is min gled with pathos, in particular in the portrayal of the children, His humanity is best drawn by his character-drawing. Though his- characters may be called as caricatured types, they have enough uniqueness and living quality. He wrote without much political or religious interest.

### 4. W.M. Thackeray :

William Makepeace Thackeray came of a good old Yorkshire family, and was born in Calcutta in July, 1811. He published The New Comes, Henry Esmond . The Adventures of Philip and his celebrated work, Vanity Fair. He satirised social conventions. He satirisedpretence and snobbery. He showed greater refinement of characterization and selection of events. He'employs realism in his fiction. He was at his best as a great artist, a great stylist and an admirable painter of manners. Other Victorian novelists are Anthony Trollope and Disraeli, Samuel Butler, Emily Bronte and Charolette Bronte and Mrs. Gaskell:

**"Modern Novel :**

Conrad, D. H. Lawrence, E. M Forster, Graham Greene, Dorothy Richardson, Virginia Woolf,
James Joyce, William Golding and Evelyn Waugh are some of the celebrated novelists in

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England in XX century. The modern novelists revolted against the Victorian values of materialism: and progress. They questioned the Victorian prudery and morality. Conrad,

Lawrence and Joyce found new areas of faith in art itself or in a religion of their own making . They discovered a new of literary experimentation. They combined tradition with experimentation in their art. The modem “novelists are interested in depicting the er reality, unlike the eighteenth century novelists, who depicted the external objective reality. The modern novelists were uninhibited in the treatment of the theme of sex. D.H. Lawrence felt that sexual harmony was an essential condition for the attainment of happiness in life. The rodem novelists have given up the traditional story telling, by replacing it with the stream-ofconsciousness technique. French symbolist also influenced the modern English novel. The great French novelists like Mallarme, Verlaine, Baudelaire and Rimbaud revolted against objective realism and insisted on a world of ideal beauty. Conrad's silver mine in Conrad's Nostromo and TAGs flowers and Marabarives in Forster's A Passage to India are the symbols drawn from the Frcach symbolist movement. Modern novelists like Joyce employ myth in their fiction by employing Jung’s theory of the unconscious. Modern novel also shows a variety of themes. H.G Wells and Aldous Huxley have written science fiction. Galsworthy’s Forsyte Saga and Amold Bennett's Clayhanger are triologies of domestic life. George Orwell's 1984, and. Animal Farm are political allegories. GH Chesterton, Edgar Wallace and Dorothy Lsayers and Agatha Christie have written good detective novels.

**Daniel Defoe : A Biographical Sketch**

**The Son of a Dissenter**

Daniel Defoe was born in the year 1660. He was the son tallow chandler by the name of James Foe who lived in the in the parish Cripplegate we the city of London. This was the time when Cromwell's Commonwealth just ended, and monarchy in England had just been restored with Charles II ascending the throne. James Foe was a Dissenter so far as his religious faith was concerned. The times were dangerous for Dissenters, because the olgious beliefs of these people were associated with the beliefs of the Commonwealth which had recently ended and to which the new king was firmly opposed. It seemed that everything, which the Puritans under Cromwell hadstood for, was now crumbling. In fact, the Puritans, or the Dissenters (also called the Non-conformists) had become a persecuted minority. The only religious worship permitted by law was that according to the prayer-book of the Church of England. Therefore, men like James Foe had to perform their duties of religious worship in secret.

**Education; As a Businessman; Marriage**

James Foe was a fairly well-to-do tradesman who at one stage in his life gave up his business of tallow-chandling and became a butcher. He became a member of the Butchers’ Company. He was prosperous enough to be able to give his son a good education. The children of Dissenters were not admitted to the grammar schools and to universities, thus making-it necessary for the Dissenters to provide their own private schools for their

children. One such school was Morton's Academy at Stoke Newington; and to this academy was the boy Daniel sent at the age of twelve or thirteen. Here he learnt French, Dutch, Italian, and Spanish, besides studying natural science, geography,astronomy and short-hand. Most of the boys at such schools were destined to become dissenting ministers or clergymen. Thus Daniel was also intended for the same vocation. However, he himself had no taste for that kind of work, even though he was a sincere Dissenter, and remained one all his life. He went into business. According to one version, he became a hosier or a haber-dasher*. But it is more likely that he became a middleman in the stocking trade, buying from the manufacturers and selling to retailers. But he also dealt "in such goods as tobacco and liquor. By this time it is also probable that he travelled in Europe. He got married in 1684, and married well, getting a fairly rich dowry.

**Political Activity**

Daniel now began to take an active interest in politics. It is said that he took up arms under the
Duke of Monmouth who was the illegitimate son of

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The Late King Charles II, and who had risen against his uncle, James 11, who was now the king. How far Daniel was actively involved in this rebellion, is not known; but, if he was, he proved lucky to have escaped scot-free where, 15three of his old school-fellows were hanged for their part in it. By 1688 King James II had so antagonized the large majority of his subjects that Willig, of Orange was invited to come from Holland to England and ascend the throne,as joint sovereign with his wife Mary (who was James's sister). William landed in England in response to this invitation, Daniel was one of the many Englishmen who rode out of London to greet him.

**From "Daniel Foe" to "Daniel Defoe"**

Daniel was now doing quite well in life as a trader. Indeed, he was rising in life; and perhaps it was at this time that he prefixed the aristocratic "de to his name "Foe", thus becoming "Defoe". And he seemed to be perfectly satisfied with the way in which events were moving in the world aroundhim_Although he remained loyal to his religious beliefs all his life, he was not 5 all a fanatical sort of man. He was essentially a middle-of-the-road man hated extremes; and in William he saw a king after his own heart. How ever ,he has often been regarded as an opportunist, because later in his life he worked as the paid agent of both Whig and Tory governments. Yet he never 'betrayed his own belief in the virtues of compromise. He always aimed at diminishing party differences between those with whom he came into contact,

**Bankruptcy; Political Pampniets Supporting King William**

The year 1692 was one of disaster for Defoe. Perhaps he was just unlucky. Or, perhaps, he was crooked and dishonest in his financial dealings, Perhaps, he was both unlucky and dishonest. In any case, he got involved in litigation over his business dealings, and got more and more deeply into debt. In the end, circumstances proved too much for him to cope with; and he became a bankrupt. However, within the next two years, he was able to recover some of his losses; and in 1694 he managed to establish a contact with Queen Mary (wife of King William). He seems to have met even the King himself more than once. It is believed that he now began to serve King William as one of his private spies, and almost as a member of the secret police. Soon afterwards he began to write pamphlets in support of the King's policies. One such pamphlet was a long poem entitled The True-Born Englishman. If Defoe had written nothing except this poem, he would yet have deserved the respect and gratitude of the English people because this poem was a strong plea for tolerance and for a civilized attitude towards people of all nationalities. The poem brought him its own rewards: the favour of the King, and probably fame. It went into nine editions in the very year of its publication, 1701.

**Pilloried, and Imprisoned**

Then came another misfortune in Defoe's life. One day in February 1702, King William was killed by a fall from his horse while out riding. William was' succeeded by Queen Anne; and the persecution of Dissenters began all over again. Defoe, who was now in the opposition, wrote and published pamphlet entitled The Shortest Way With Dissenters which was an attack on Dissenters but which was taken literally, and therefore misunderstood by both the Dissenters and their opponents. The consequence of this misunderstanding was most unhappy from Defoe's point of view. The pamphlet had appeared on the 1st December, 1702; and on the 3rd January, 1703. A warrant for its author's arrest was issued. Defoe tried to go into hiding, but he was ultimately arrested, on the 20th May. Imprisoned in New gate, he threw himself on the mercy of Queen Anne. But he received no mercy, and was sentenced to stand on three consecutive days in the pillory and also to pay a heavy fine. But that was not all. He was further condemned to imprisonment during the Queen's pleasure. On the 29th July, 1703, Defoe appeared in the pillory for the first time. He had already written a poem for this sad occasion. The poem was entitled A Hymn to the Pillory; and it was an attack on those who had sentenced him. The poem, which had already been put on sale, brought him much sympathy and support. As he stood in the pillory, with his face a ready target for all sorts of missiles from the mob, he was met not with the usual shower of stones and mud, but with garlands. This friendly and warm reception was repeated on the second day; and on the third day it proved to be even more enthusiastic. The mob drank to his health, and applauded him. From the

pillory, Defoe was taken to New gate prison where he remained for three months, after which he was released on the recommendation of the "politician Robert Harley, Earl of Oxford.

**A Pamphleteer in the Pay of a Politician**

In this way Defoe became Robert Harley's supporter and follower. He had now no means of supporting himself and his large family except by his pen Under the patronage of Harley, he started a newspaper which proved a great success and which continued to be published for nine years. To the public, this newspaper seemed to be the expression of Defoe's own opinions on politics and other matters, but in fact it was a vehicle of propaganda in support of Harley's policies. Harley kept supporting Defoe, though not liberally. Defoe was now writing not only for this newspaper but also publishing pamplets, one after the other. And, besides being a writer who supported the government, he was also working as a government Spy or secret agent.

**The Ups and Downs of Life**

Thus life went on for Defoe. He had yet to go through many ups and downs. If he had a patron in Harley, he had also made many enemies. Materially he was successful enough, having a decent house and a garden at Stoke Newington; but life had its difficulties for him also. He was now aging; and he was beginning to feel disillusioned with politics. In 1713, his enemies got the better of him; he was arrested and taken to prison. He was soon released on bail: but there were other difficulties which now arose for him. The Queen died, and the Elector of Hanover ascended the throne as King George I. Harley fell from power; and Defoe was in trouble again. The



newspaper which he had been editing had come to an end, and he was now managing another newspaper the role of which was somewhat dubious. In 1718, a rival newspaper published a long poem which was a blunt and undisguised attack on defoe and his political activites.

**The Writing of Some Great Novels**

Despite his active participation politics, Defoe had never ceased writing. Much of his writing was of course political ,but he found time also for writings of a non political nature. and now in 1719 appeared his most famous book, robinson Crusoe. This was followed,

during the next five years by a handful of novels scarcely less remarkable: Captain Singleton, moll flanders ;A Journal of the Plague Year; and roxona. In these Novels one prominent theme was simulation and dissimulation, which had been Part of Defoe's own life. Into these novels went all he had learnt of the art of writing and the art of persuasion in his twenty years miscellaneous journalism and pamphleteering.

**The last phase of his Life; and Death**

Defoe had now retired from politics, and was living in his house at Stoke Newington. He kept himself busy by writing. But he also too Ps Some business activities, having started a brick-andtile business In which he jg believed to have cheated his partner. At the same time, his novels were pouring from the presses, and the same was the case with his other miscellaneous writings. In fact, he proved to be one of the most prolific of writers, Some of his miscellaneous writings showed how far ahead of the opinions of his time he was, with his plans for a university in London and a foundling hospital, his scheme for the proper supervision of lunatic asylums, and his plea for the control of the sale of gin. His old age was by no means peaceful, In 1730, at the age of seventy, he one day disappeared from Stoke Newington, He went into hiding somewhere near Greenwich, because he was being sued by a woman for the debts which he had been owing to her during the past twenty-five years. From his hiding-place, where he was isolated from his wife and family, he wrote pathetic letters to his son-in-law. And at the end he was all alone. He died in April 1731 in a lodging house, not far from where he was born.

UNIT 2 (PART-1)

# The Principal Works of Daniel Defoe

## A Prolific Writer

In the seventy-one years of his life Defoe wrote more than four hundred works. Some of them, it is true, are scarcely longer than modern newspaper articles; but many more are much longer than most modern novels. His poetry alone, which nobody reads now, runs to more lines than Milton's. This vast literally output shows an extraordinary energy in the man. In this context, a critic writes: "Defoe was probably the most industrious in the annals of literary production. The volume of his work, a large part of which was of a fugitive kind, must have exceeded even the vast output of the literary factory run by the elder Dumas. He ran himself as a kind of publishing-house, and was always ready with books, pamphlets, or articles, on any topic that happened to be engrossing public interest. It was indeed as a manufacturer of wares for the literary market, or at least the market for printed stuff, that - Defoe contrived in the end to become a novelist."

## Some of the More Important Works

A list of Defoe's more important works is given below. The very titles of the works listed below show the wide range of Defoe's interests and the vast range of his knowledge. He was, indeed, not only a prolific writer but a versatile one. The year of the publication of each work is given against the title of each.

1. The True-Born Englishman (Verse) ; 1701
2. The Mock-Mourners (Verse) 1702
3. The Shortest Way With the Dissenters 1702
4. Ode to the Athenian Society (Verse) ©1703
5. A Hymn to the Pillory (Verse) : 1703
6. The Consolidator © 1705
7. A True Relation of the Apparition of One Mrs Veal : 1706

8. Caledonia (Verse) 1706
9. History of the Union of Great Britain > 1709
10. An Essay Upon Loans 1710
11. The Present State of Parties in Great Britain 1712
12. A General History of Trade 1713
13. The Family Instructor : 1715
14. Memoirs of the Church of Scotland 1717
15. The Family Instructor Part Il
16. The Life and Strange Surprising Adventures of Robinson Crusoe

17 .The Farther Adventures of Robinson Crusoé

18.The King of Pirates

19.Memoirs of a Cavalier

20.The Life, adventures, and Piracies of the Famous

Captain Singleton

21. Serious Reflections During the Life And surprising

Adventures of Robinson Crusoe

22. The Fortunes and Misfortunes of Moll Flanders
23. A Journal of the Plague Year
24. The History of Colonel Jacque
25. Religious Courtship

26.History of Peter the Great

27. Roxana
28. A New Voyage Round the World

29.Everybody's Business is Nobody's Business

30.The Political History of the Devil

31.A Treatise on the Use and Abuse of the Marriage Bed :

32.History and Reality of Apparitions

33.A Plan of the English Commerce

34.A Humble Proposal to the People of England for the

Increase of Trade

35.An Effectual Scheme for Preventing Street Robberies :

## "Robinson Crusoe": An Introduction to the Novel

### The Continuing Popularity of the Book Since Its Publication

Robinson Crusoe was published on the 25th April, 1719, and proved an immediate success. A second edition appeared on the 12th May of the same year, and two more editions by the end of the year. Soon afterwards Defoe wrote a sequal to this novel, and entitled it as The Further Adventures of Robinson Crusoe: Being the Second and Last Part of His Life. However, the sequal did not achieve the same popularity or success as the original book, the full title of which was: "The Life and Strange Surprising Adventures of Robinson Crusoe." Defoe tried to give his reading public the impression that his book was a true record of the actual experiences and doings of a real man stranded on an uninhabited island. But, of course, the record was fictitious, and Crusoe an imaginary character. In 1720 an old, unsuccess- ful playwright by the name of Charles Gildon published an attack Defoe's book, questioning the authenticity of the adventures of Robinson Crusoe on the desolate island where he was supposed to have been stranded. However, the popularity of Defoe's book did not diminish at all and, to this day, the book continues to be regarded as one of the most celebrated literary works in English.

### The First English Novel

Robinson Crusoe is, by common consent, regarded as the first novel in the history of English fiction. It is primarily on the basis of this book that Defoe is considered to be the father of the English novel. In this connection, a critic has the following observations to make: "But Defoe's genius as an originator culminated in his invention of the novel. Defoe is the father of all novelists. Strictly speaking, Robinson Crusoe, Moll Flanders, and the rest are brilliant autobiographical adventure stories, and not novels as we now understand the term. That is to say, there is no subtle psychological anlaysis, and indeed no plot-one just goes on with one adventure after another. There is very little humour or poignancy as in the great novels. His books are simply marvellous examples of the adventure story as told by oneself. But for all that he is the originator of all novels, including that great novel-

by- accident, the Sir Roger de Coverley papers." Another critic thus describes the importance of Robinson Crusoe: "Indeed, had he not written Robinson Crusoe, at the age of fifty-nine and the novels that followed later, it is unlikely that scholars would have bothered to unearth the facts of his life at all. As it is, he is, with Shakespeare and Dickens, one of the three English writers most famous throughout the world and one of the principal makers of the kind of fictitious narrative that we call the novel." Actually, Defoe



did not refer to these books as novels; and a novelist was the last thing he wanted to appear. He was a writer of autobiographies of imaginary persons whom he hoped to pass off to the public as real. In the preface to Robinson Crusoe, he wrote: "The editor believes the thing to be a just history of fact; neither is there any appearance of fiction in it." For a time the pretence was successful. Then, one of his enemies, as already pointed out above, wrote a book exposing Defoe as a liar and a cheat. Defoe defended himself by maintaining that the events narrated in Robinson Crusoe were historical in a deeper sense than actual facts, because they were allegorical of the events and circumstances of his own (Defoe's) life. This defence appeared to be absurd to most critics. However, we can say that every good novel is, in one sense, an allegory of its author's deepest feelings about human life. Robinson Crusoe has, indeed, an autobiographical flavour because it is written in the first person singular pronoun, as if the writer were recording his personal experiences, though the experiences described in the book are by no means personal.

**An Outline of the Story**

Crusoe begins with an account of his birth and parentage, and relates that, in opposition to his father's advice, he ran away from home and boarded a ship bound for London on the 1st September, 1651. A violent storm began to blow during the voyage, and the ship got wrecked, after all those on board had been taken off in a boat. Subsequently, Crusoe made his way to London by road. There he joined a ship sailing for Guinea on the African coast, earned a good profit by the sale of the goods which he had taken with him and, on his return, resolved to set up as a Guinea trader. But on his very next voyage to Guinea, the ship was captured by pirates from Sallee; and Crusoe spent the next two years as a slave. Then he made his escape in a boat, in the company of a black boy named Xury; and, after some adventures on the west coast of Africa, was picked up by a Portuguese ship and taken to Brazil, where he established himself as a planter.

His restless disposition asserted itself again and, after four years of this profitable occupation as a planter, he induced a few merchants and planters to fit out a ship for a slave-buying expedition to Africa. This ship was carried off its course by storms, and got stranded off an island near the mouth of the river called the Orinoco, all on board perishing

with the sole exception of Crusoe. He then fought his way out of the sea and, more dead than alive, found himself alone on an uninhabited island on the 30th September, 1659; and there he remained till the 19th December, 1686. The major portion of the novel describes Crusoe's adventures on this uninhabited island. His first adventure consisted in his obtaining plenty of stores from the wrecked ship which lay in the sea not far from the shore. His next task was to build a habitation for himself and, accordingly, he built one, consisting of a hut on the ground and a cave in the rock close by. His subsequent achievements were the raising of crops of barley and rice, the domestication and breeding of goats, the making of a boat which, however, he could not drag into the sea singlehanded, the weaving of baskets, the making of earhenware, and so on. During a serious illness which he suffered, he turned to God and prayed to Him for mercy.

He was also now filled with repentance over his disobedience to the wishes of his father who had urged him not to leave home and go to the sea. One of the most startling incidents in the life of Crusoe on the island was his discovery of a foot-print in sand on the sea-shore. Many years later, he had his first encounter with the cannibals who had been visiting his island and holding feasts of human flesh on the shore. In this encounter Crusoe saved the life of a savage whom the cannibals wanted to kill in order to eat his flesh. This savage then became Cursoe's devoted servant under the name "Friday". Afterwards Crusoe and Friday battled against another group of cannibals who visited the island, and saved the lives of a Spanish prisoner and also the life of Friday's father who had fallen into the hands of those cannibals. Crusoe's next adventure was to save the life of an English seacaptain whose crew had mutinied against him. This captain then succeeded in recovering his ship from the hands of the mutineers. It was by this English ship that Crusoe returned to England with his man Friday. As a critic has said, neither the story of Shakespeare's Hamlet nor the story of Bunyan's The Pilgrim's Progress is better known than this immortal story of Crusoe as told by Defoe.

**The Sources of the Story of Robinson Crusoe**

Several sources for the story of Defoe's novel have been identified by scholars. However, the principal source is a book called A Cruising Voyage Round the World witten buy a sca-captain by the name of Woodes Rogers. This book contains an account of the actual experiences of a Scottish sailor by the name of Alexander Selkirk who spent four years all alone on an uninhabited island called Juan Fernandez. Alexander Selkirk had been put ashore on the island of the Juan Fernandez by the captain of the ship called the Cinque Ports which he had boarded as a sailor. It was because Selkirk had entered into a heated argument with his captain and had virtually quarrelled with him that he was put ashore with all his belongings. Selkirk spent a little more than four years on this island, leading a

solitary life. Eventually, a ship under the command of Captain Woodes Rogers dropped anchor off this island and rescued Selkirk from his solitary existence. Capatin Rogers took Selkirk to England aboard his ship. As was but natural, Selkirk related to Captain Rogers all his experiences on the island. He also told his story to another seacaptain whose name Edward Cooke. Captain Rogers then wrote a book, already named above, in which he narrated Selkirk's story. Now, there is such a close resemblance between the experiences of Selkirk as narrated by Captain Rogers and the experiences of Crusoe as narrated by Defoe that it is impossible to escape the conclusion that Defoe based his novel on the account given by Captain Rogers in his book. We may therefore confidently affirm that Captain Rogers's account constitutes the nucleus which inspired Defoe to write his mmortal novel known as Robinson Crusoe. At the same time, we must also was



recognize the fact that Defoe had read many other works in which writers had narrated their experiences of travelling to distant lands. Defoe must definitely have drawn some of his material from these accounts of travel and exploration. These accounts must have provided him with geographical background and other details which helped him in the writing of his novel.

### Deeper Meanings of This Adventure Story

Robinson Crusoe is an adventure story which has an immense appeal for the juvenile mind. As an adventure story, this book is known to almost every English schoolboy. But a closer analysis shows that the book is much more than an adventure story. As already pointed out above, Defoe declared that the story was allegorical of his own life. Defoe further said that the story, although allegorical, was also historical. In any case, the book was never intended by the author to be taken as a straightforward account of a man's adventures on an uninhabited island. The novel has certainly a deeper significance. It may be regarded as a moral tale and a Puritan fable. The solitary life of Crusoe on the island is God's punishment for Crusoe's great sin which consisted in his disobedience to his father's wish and in his giving a free outlet to his foolish inclination to wander abroad. Another way of looking at this novel is to regard Crusoe as Everyman. While perusing this novel, the reader would say to himself: "If I had been Crusoe, I would have acted and behaved in the same way." Some critics have also found an economic doctrine at the core of the book.

**UNIT 2(PART-2)**

## "Robinson Crusoe": The Story in Brief

### Crusoe's Act of Disobedience to His Father

Robinson Crusoe was born in the year 1632 in the English city of York, Very early in life, his head began to be filled with "rambling thoughts", His father wanted him to study law; but he felt a strong urge to go to the sea. His father was strongly opposed to this desire of his. His father was of the view that only those men should go abroad to seek an adventurous career who were either extremely poor or extremely rich. For a young man born to a middle station in life, it was sheer folly to think of travelling to foreign countries. According to Crusoe's father, peace of mind and prosperity attended only upon a middle station in life. Crusoe was even warned by his father that, if he persisted in his wish and if he acted in a manner contrary to his father's advice and counsel, he would come to grief and would then find himself in a miserable state. The exhortation of his father produced only a very temporary effect upon Crusoe's mind. One day, having casually gone to Hull, he boarded a ship bound for London.

It was on the 1st September, 1651 that he left home to go on a voyage against the explicit wish of his father and his mother. He was at this time just twenty years old. Crusoe, as a Merchant-Trader, and Then as a Slave Hardly had the ship sailed out of the harbour when a strong wind began to blow, and the waves began to rise in a frightful manner. The wind soon grew into a furious storm as a consequence of which the ship was wrecked. However, Crusoe and the others on board the ship were rescued just in time by a boat sent to them by another ship. Crusoe now landed upon the shore near Winterton in the company of the others. From Winterton they all walked to Yarmouth where they were received with great kindness by the merchants and the ship-owners. From there Crusoe went onwards to London by road. From London he sailed to Guinea on the African coast in the company of an English sea-captain who had become very friendly with him.

Having bought certain goods in London at the advice of this sea- captain, Crusoe sold these goods in Guinea and made a profit which led him to decide to become a merchant operating between London and Guinea. However, during his very next voyage, Crusoe's ship was chased by a Turkish vessel belonging to pirates. As a result of the battle which now took place between the crews of the two ships, Crusoe and all the men aboard his ship were captured by the pirates and taken to a Moroccan port called Sallee. From there, Crusoe's companions were taken to the emperor's court as prisoners, while Crusoe was kept by the captain of the Turkish ship as his personal slave. This was a most unfortunate occurrence in Crusoe's life because, from a merchant-trader, he had now become a miserable slave.

**THESTORYINBRIEF**

**Escape From Slavery; an Ambition to Rise in Life**

Crusoe spent the next two years of his life in a state of slavery. Then he got an opportunity to escape from this state of humiliation and misery by a boat belonging to his master. A young Moorish fellow by the name of Xury was on this boat with him as his master's agent; but Crusoe was able to win the co-operation and support of this fellow partly by threats and partly by persuasion. But Crusoe did not know in which direction to sail in order to touch some port far away from Sallee. The result was that he and Xury kept drifting on the sea for several days. Eventually, he and Xury were picked up by a Portuguese ship and taken to Brazil. With the help of the captain of this Portuguese ship, Crusoe settled in Brazil where he bought a sugar plantation with the little money which he had. This enterprise proved quite profitable; and soon Crusoe found himself in that middle state from the financial point of view which had so strongly been praised by his father. But even now Crusoe did not wish to continue living in the middle state of life. He was now filled with "an immoderate desire to rise faster in life than the nature of the thing permitted".

**All Drowned, Except Crusoe**

After spending almost four years in Brazil and having become fairly prosperous, Crusoe joined a few merchants who had arranged a slave-buying expedition to Guinea. It was an evil hour on the 1st September, 1659 when Crusoe boarded the ship which had been fitted out for the proposed expedition. After the ship had been on sea for twelve days, a violent storm began to blow. The storm drove the ship in a direction which the crew could not determine. For the next ten or twelve days the crew and the passengers found themselves helpless in the face of the storm. Soon the ship struck against a sand-bank and got stuck there. The men, eleven in all, now lowered a boat into the sea and got into it. However, the boat was soon overwhelmed by a huge wave, and all the men found themselves struggling in the water, with no hope of survival. Eventually, all the men perished in the sea with the exception of Crusoe who was carried ashore by several waves one after the others.

**Things Obtained by Crusoe From the Stranded Ship**

Crusoe now found himself on an island which was totally uninhabited. From the shore he saw the stranded ship which had been driven by the storm within a mile of the shore. He swam to the ship and obtained from it a large number of articles which could prove useful to him in his desolate condition on the island. He now found himself absolutely companionless and resourceless. Seeing that he would have to help himself with regard to both shelter and food, he made several more trips to the stranded ship and obtained many more articles of which he could make good use on the island. These articles included several items of food, several weapons such as guns and pistols, considerable ammunition including gunpowder, such tools as saws, an axe, a hammer, several bottles of rum, a box

of sugar, a hammock, some clothing, some bedding, some money (even though he knew that money was of no use on a desolate island), a bag full of chicken feed, a bag full of nails, and a number of miscellaneous things.

**Building a Habitation**

Crusoe now proceeded to build a proper habitation for himself. now proceeded to build a proper habitation Choosing a suitable spot close to the sea-shore, he built a hut, with a strong fence around it. Soon afterwards he dug a cave into the rock just behind the hut. While the hut would serve as his house, the cave would serve as a cellar to the house. Then he took measures to keep his gunpowder dry against the possibility of rain and lightning. All this work took him many weeks and involved much arduous labour. In the intervals of time, when he was not engaged upon this task, he went out once every day with his gun in order to kill a wild goat for his food or to acquaint himself a little more with the island.

**Tears of Distress**

Crusoe's situation on the island was by no means enviable. He had been cast away upon an island, hundreds of miles away from the ordinary course of the trade of mankind. It seemed that he would have to live and die on this desolate island. Tears began to flow from his eyes at the thought of the affliction which had overtaken him. However, he found some comfort in the realization that he was far more fortunate than his companions who had all perished in the sea.

**Means of Survival on the Island**

It was on the 30th September, 1659 that Crusoe had first set foot upon this dreadful island. In order not to lose his sense of time, he devised a sort of calendar by means of which he could keep track of the passing of days and weeks. As time passed, Crusoe tried to provide himself with all those amenities which it was possible for him, with the tools and materials at his disposal, to devise. For instance, he made a table, and a chair; and he provided an additional fortification to his habitation as a sort of defence against any possible intruders, wild men or wild beasts. Having casually shaken some grains of barley and rice out of a bag, he was amazed one day to see a few ears of corn growing from the earth. From this experience he learnt that he would be able to grow both barley and rice on the island with the seeds which he obtained from this accidental crop. In course of time he put this plan into practice, and began to obtain a regular yield of both barley and rice from the soil which he prepared for the purpose.

**Illness; and a Spiritual Development in Crusoe**

One of his most agonizing experience on the island was an illness which Crusoe suffered. This illness lasted several days. During the illness he saw a terrible dream in which a man, descending from a cloud, moved forward, with a long spear in his hand, to kill Crusoe. On

waking up from this dream, Crusoe thought of the advice which his father had given and which he had disobeyed.

Then offered a carnest prayer to God seeking God's grace. When Crusoe recovered from his illness, he made it a practice to read a few pages of the Bible everyday. (Among the many things which he had brought from the stranded ship were many books including some Bibles).

**No Shortage of Food; a Number of Pet Animals**

Crusoe often travelled over the island in order to explore it. In the course of his exploration of the island, he found a certain region where grew fruits of all kinds. He found an abundance of grapes which he dried, thus making raisins from them. The raisins could last for a long time and serve as a very nourishing as well as very delicious kind of food. He also built in this part of the island a bower to serve him as his second habitation. Thus now he had one house on the seashore, and another in the interior. Crusoe now also learnt to weave baskets from the twigs which he could easily cut from the trees. Nor was he short of food now. The meat of goats, pigeons, and tortoises was available to him in plenty, besides an abundance of raisins. He had brought a dog and a couple of cats from the ship, and he had caught a parrot from the island. He taught the parrot to talk, though it took him a very long time to do so. He also had among his pet animals a young kid around the neck of which he had put a collar.

**His Ingenuity and Industry**

Crusoe had now completed two years of his stay on the island. He was now leading a regular kind of life, not omitting his duty to God, which consisted in reading the Bible. Among the many things which he had learnt to do on the island was the grinding of corn (which he obtained from the agricultural farm set up by him) and the making of bread. He also devised a method of making pots and jars from clay, and of baking them in the sun, and on the fire. In short, Crusoe was really able to provide himself with all kinds of amenities and comforts by his ingenuity, skill, and labour. He was still unhappy because he was leading a solitary life; but he could console himself with the thought of the amenities which he had devised for himself, and could find comfort in prayers to God.

**A Foot-Print in the Sand**

One day Crusoe saw a foot-print in the sand on the sea-shore. He felt terrified on seeing it, because he could not understand where this foot-print had come from. It seemed to him that it was the Devil's own foot-print. Or, perhaps it was the foot-print of some savage who had visited the island. This foot-print destroyed Crusoe's peace of mind because it indicated some unknown danger. The foot-print created a new problem for him. He now began to take all sorts of measures for his protection and survival. It seemed to him that he might at any time be attacked by savages who would not hesitate to kill him. He made another

horrible discovery when, on going to another side of the island, he saw a large number of skulls, hands, feet, and bones of human bodies, lying close to the shore. It now became evident to him that savages were visiting his island from some other island or from the main land and enjoying a feast of human flesh here on the sea-shore. Cannibals on the Island

Years rolled by; but Crusoe did not see any other sign of savages. He had now spent about eighteen years on the island. His fear of the unknown savages had never left him during this whole period. A few more years passed in the same way. During the twenty-third year of his residence on this island, he actually saw a number of savages sitting around a fire which they had lighted to cook their meal of human flesh. After a little while, he saw the savages sailing away in their canoes. On going to the spot where they had been eating their meal, he was horrified to see the human bones and the half- eaten pieces of human flesh.

**A Spanish Ship, Wrecked on the Sea**

About fifteen months later, a Spanish ship got wrecked on the sea close to Crusoe's island. Crusoe saw no sign of the sailors. They had all either perished in the sea or sailed away in a boat which they might have lowered into the sea. Crusoe sailed in a canoe (which he had himself built) to the wrecked Spanish ship, but found no survivor. From the ship he brought twỏ chests in which he found several things of great use to him. **Crusoe's Feelings During His Stay on the Island**

Two parallel emotions continued to exist in Crusoe's heart throughout these years. One was the desire to get away from this desolate island and resume his life as a member of civilized human society. The second was a feeling of comfort derived from the thought that God had been kind to him in having preserved his life and having supplied all his wants on the uninhabited island. He had always been cherishing a desire to sail to the main land in an attempt to get back to civilization; and, having failed to do so, he had all the time been deriving comfort from his faith in God and from his daily reading of the Bible. One other thought which always haunted him was his defiance of his father's wish. He had disobeyed his father by leaving the parental home and going to the sea. He regarded that act of disobedience as his "original sin". He felt much troubled by the notion that his original sin and his subsequent mistakes of the same kind had been responsible for all his misfortunes and for his having got into his miserable condition on a desolate island. If he had been satisfied with the middle station in life, he would not have experienced all those hardships and afflictions which had overtaken him.

**Crusoe's Acquisition of a Devoted Slave**

One day Crusoe saw a group of twenty to thirty cannibals on the shore of his island. They had brought four prisoners whom they evidently wanted to slaughter for their flesh which they would cook and feast upon. One of these prisoners made a bid for escape from the

clutches of the cannibals by running away from them. Crusoe, who was armed with a gun and a couple of pistols, saved the life of this runaway prisoner by firing at the cannibals, killing one and driving away the others. The man whom Crusoe had thus saved now became Crusoe's devoted slave.

Crusoe gave him the name **THE STORY IN BRIEF**

"Friday", because he had saved the man's life on a Friday. In course of time, Friday leamt many skills from Crusoc; and he also became a Christian under Crusoe's instruction.

**Two More Men, Rescued From the Clutches of Cannibals**

Crusoc had now spent about twenty-five years on this island. Throughout his stay here he had been harbouring a desire to visit the main land and to get back to civilized society somehow. But he had never got the opportunity to make an attempt to escape from the island because he could not have undertaken a dangerous voyage single-handed. With the help of Friday, he now built a boat by which he thought he could sail to the main land in Friday's company. But now another incident occurred. Another group of cannibals landed upon the shore of Crusoe's island. This time Crusoe saved the lives of two prisoners from the clutches of these cannibals. One of the prisoners thus saved was a Spaniard, while the other turned out to be Friday's own father who had unfortunately fallen into the hands of cannibals belonging to an enemy nation.

**Crusoe's Return to England**

Another big achievement of Crusoe consisted in his saving the life of an English sea-captain from the crew of the captain's ship. The crew: had mutinied against the captain, and some members of the mutinous crew now landed upon the island in order to leave their captain and a couple of other men ashore before sailing away in the ship which they had unlawfully seized. The captain then succeeded in recovering his ship from the mutinous crew because their ring-leaders had been killed. It was by this ship that Crusoe and his man Friday were taken to England. Crusoe left the island on the 19th December, 1686 after having stayed there for a little more than twenty-eight years; and he arrived in England about six months later.

**Crusoe, a Rich Man**

From England, Crusoe went once again to Lisbon where he learnt that his plantation in Brazil had been yielding a regular income and that he was now a rich man. He took immediate measures to sell his plantation, and in this way acquired a good deal of money. In due course he got married and begot children, two sons and one daughter.

**UNIT 2(PART-3) Joseph Andrews: Introduction**

Joseph Andrews, or The History of the Adventures of Joseph Andrews and of his Friend Mr. Abraham Adams, was the first published full-length novel of the English author and magistrate Henry Fielding, and indeed among the first novels in the English language. Published in 1742 and defined by Fielding as a 'comic romance', it is the story of a good-natured footman's adventures on the road home from London with his friend and mentor, the absent- minded parson Abraham Adams. The novel represents the coming together of the two competing aesthetics of eighteenth-century literature: the mock-heroic and neoclassical (and, by extension. aristocratic) approach of Augustans such as Alexander Pope and Jonathan Swift; and the popular, domestic prose fiction of novelists such as Daniel Defoe and Samuel Richardson.

The novel draws on a variety of inspirations. Written "in imitation of the manner of Cervantes, the author of Don Quixote", the work owes much of its humour to the techniques developed by Cervantes, and its subject-matter to the seemingly loose arrangement of events, digressions and lower-class characters to the genre of writing known as picaresque. In deference to the literary tastes and recurring tropes of the period, it relies on bawdy humour, an impending marriage and a mystery surrounding unknown parentage, but conversely is rich in philosophical digressions, classical crudition and social purpose.

**Henry Fielding: Biography**

Henry Fielding (Sharpham, 22 April 1707 October 1754) near Lisbon, 8 was an English novelist and dramatist known for his rich earthy humour and satirical prowess, and as the author of the novel Tom Jones.

Aside from his literary achievements, he has a significant place in the history of law-enforcement, having founded (with his half-brother John) what some have called London's first police force, the Bow Street Runners, using his authority as a magistrate. His younger sister, Sarah, also became a successful writer.

**Summary**

Joseph Andrews is the brother of Richardson's Pamela. At the age of ten years he found himself tending to animals as an apprentice to Sir Thomas Booby. It was in proving his worth as a horseman that he first caught the eye of Sir Thomas's wife, Lady Booby, who employed him as her footman.

After the death of Sir Thomas, Joseph finds that his Lady's affections have redoubled. After suffering the Lady's fury, Joseph dispatches a letter to his sister.

With Joseph setting out from London by moonlight, he meets Fanny Goodwill. A poor illiterate girl of 'extraordinary beauty", she and Joseph had grown ever closer since their childhood, before their local parson and mentor, Abraham Adams, recommended that they postpone marriage until they have the means to live comfortably.

On his way to see Fanny, Joseph is mugged and laid up in a nearby inn where he is reconciled with Adams, who is on his way to London to sell three volumes of his sermons. The thief, too, is found and brought to the inn (only to escape later that night), and Joseph is reunited with his possessions.

The landlord, Mr Tow-wouse, had always admired Betty and saw this disappointment as an opportunity to take advantage. Locked in an embrace, they are discovered by the choleric Mrs Tow-wouse, who chases the maid through the house before Adams is forced to restrain her.

**Book II**

Adams remains resolved to continue his journey to London until it is revealed that his wife, deciding that he would be more in need of shirts than sermons on his journey, has neglected to pack them. The pair thus decide to return to the parson's parish: Joseph in search of Fanny, and Adams in search of his sermons.

After stopping at an inn, Adams relinquishes his seat to Joseph and, forgetting his horse, embarks ahead on foot. As the night falls Adams and the stranger discourse on courage and duty, a shriek is heard. Adams rushes to the girl's aid and after a mock-epic struggle knocks her attacker unconscious. In spite of Adams' good intentions, be and the girl, who reveals herself to be none other than Fanny Goodwill, find themselves accused of assault and robbery.

After some comic litigious wrangling before the local magistrate, the pair are eventually released and depart shortly after midnight in search of Joseph. Slipslop, her jealousy ignited by seeing the two lovers reunited, departs angrily. When Adams, Joseph and Fanny come to leave the following morning, they find their departure delayed by an inability to settle the bill, and, with Adams' solicitations of a loan from the local parson.

**Book III**

The three depart the inn by night, and it is not long before Fanny With the party silent, they overhear approaching voices agree on 'the murder of any one they meet' (III, ii) and flee to a local bause. Inviting them in, the owner, Mr Wilson, informs them that the on the killing of livestock than of Adams and his friends. The party gang of supposed murderers were in fact sheep-stealers, intent more being settled, Wilson begins the novel's most lengthy interpolated tale by recounting his life story; a story which bears a notable resemblance b Fielding's own young adulthood. **Book IV**

Beanders through emotions as diverse as rage, pity, hatred, pride and love. The next morning Joseph'and Fanny's banns are published and On seeing Joseph arrive back in the parish, a jealous Lady Booby

Lady turns her anger onto Parson Adams, who is accommodating Mephew, Mr Booby, and a surprise guest: Booby has married Pamela, Banting Joseph a powerful new ally and brother-inlaw.

Three days later, the Lady's plans are foiled by the visit of her Lady Booby, in a last-ditch attempt to sabotage the marriage, brings a young beau named Didapper to Adams' house to seduce Fanny. Fanny is unattracted to his bold attempts of courtship. The Lady and the beau depart in disgust, but the pedlar, having seen the Lady, is compelled to relate a tale.

The following morning, Joseph and Pamela's parents arrive, and together with the pedlar and Adams, they piece together the question of Fanny's parentage. The Andrews identify her as their lost daughter, but have a twist to add to the tale: when Fanny was an infant, she was indeed stolen from her parents, but the thieves left behind a sickly infant Joseph in return, who was raised as their own. It is immediately apparent that Joseph is the abovementioned kidnapped son of Wilson, and when Wilson arrives on his promised visit, he identifies Joseph by a birthmark on his chest. Two days later they are married by Adams in a humble ceremony.

0.1. Joseph Andrews is a satire on 18th century? what kind of
satire it is?

Ans: It is a social satire. Fieliding is making fun of 18th century manners and society and how it leads to misleading appearances.

Q.2. Discuss theme of charity in the novel Joseph Andrews?

Ans: Fielding admired honesty, integrity, simplicity, and charity, believed that virtue is seen in an individual's actions, but recognized the difficulty of making moral judgments.

Q.3. What is the comparision between Parson Adams and Parson Tulliber in the novel Joseph Andrews, especially in regard to charity?

Ans: Parson Trulliber, is the exact opposite of Parson Adams. His goodwill and charitable spirit are so mean and eager that he will not even extend charity to Parson Adams when it is in need.

Q.4. How is Parson Adam in the story?

Ans: Parson Adams in Joseph Andrews is the quintessential good country parson of the era. He is charitable in all that he possesses, even to the point of being charitable enough to risk his own safety or even life in order to protect his students and friends. 9.

5. In Henery Fielding's Joseph Andrews, the importance of fashion recurs throughout the novel. Discuss.

Ans: The author examines the concept, and finds that "High People" are "People of Fashion" but they are not "higher in their Dimensions" nor in "their Characters" than the rest of society. Q.6. How the seduction scene is comic?

Ans: The comedy in the scene is based on the discrepancy between the virtue 'affected' by Lady Booby and the reality of vice in her intensions. Joseph, in his purity, 'misunderstands' her. Q.7. What do Joseph feel when Laddy Booby had tried to seduce him?

Ans: He had fear that Lady Booby had gone mad on the death of her husband.

Q.8.

How Adam misses the stagecoach?

Ans: Adam rests by the side of the road where he becomes engaged in conversation with a fellow traveller that he misses the stagecoach as it passes. Q.9. How did Wilson financially crippled?

Ans: After two bad experiences with women, he is financially crippled and falls into the company of a group of gamblers and freethinkers.

Q.10. How did Lady Booby react on seeing Joseph back?

Ans: On seeing Joseph arrive back in the perish, a jealous Lady Booby meanders through emotions as diverse as rage, pity, hatered, pride and love.

Q.11. What was Lady Booby's plan to stop Joseph and Fanny's marriage?

Ans: Finding herself powerless either to stop the marriage or lo expel them from the parish, she enlists the help of Lawyer Scout, who brings a spurious charge of larceny against Joseph and Fanny in order to prevent, or at least postpone, the wedding..

Q.12. What was Lady Booby's last plan to prevent them to marry?

Ans: Lady Booby, in a last-ditch attempt to sabotage the marriage, brings a young beau named Didapper to Adam's house to seduce Fanny.

Q.13. Character-sketch of Joseph Andrews.

Ans: Joseph Andres is a young, innocent, well mannered, virtuous and very attractive youngman.

He years only for Fanny Graduall all who is young, innocent, well mannered, virtuous and very tractive young woman, who in tum years only for Andrew. Q. What are the main themes in the novel? Aas Appearance VS reality, Abuse of power, Inhumanity f

individuals and society, lust VS chastity.

0.15 Why did Lady Booby dismis Joseph?

Ans: Lady Booby, in her disappointment with Joseph's refusal other advances, dismisses hi

0.16. What is Fielding's view about the reputation?

Ans Fielding is basically and stungly against such other

oncepts of reputation and virtue

0.17. How Fielding analysis of Lady Booby's mental dilemma?

Outword

Ans: Fieldings shows 'psychological realism' in his analysis of Lady Boy's mental dilemma between love and pride.

Q. Why did Joseph decide to eum to Lady Boy's country/ Bastead of Ans:Joseph decides to returns to Lady Booby's country estate dolgoing on stanght to his parents. His decisionis pumped by
His attachment for a young girl, Fanny

Ans: A violent storm of hail made Joseph seek sheller in an inn

30. Distribe the satire against clergymen in the novel

The saline is not against clergymen is generals alik the bad clergymen who brought disrepute to their calling. Parson males drinks heavily and lacks adequate knowledge of their linical matters

**Multiple Choice Questions with Answers**

Q.1. What article of clothing does Sophia leave for Tom at the inn at

Upton?

(A) Her petticoat

(C) Her stays

Ans: (B)

Q.2. Who is "little Benjamin"?

(A)
Fitzpatrick
(B) Her
mull

(D) Her shawl

(B) Northerton

(C) The lieutenant

(D) Partridge
Ans: (D)

7.3. What does Tom sell to Blifil in order to give money to Black
George?

(A) A Bible

(C) Abrd

Ans: (A)

(B) A horse

(D) A pipe

Q.4. How does Nightingale suggest that Tom rid himself of Lady Bellaston?

(A) By trying to ravish her

(B) By professing his love for Sophia

(C) By proposing marriage to her

0.5.

(D) By flirting with Arabella Hunt Ans: (C)

From whom does Allworthy receive a letter that clears Tom from blame?

(A) Square

(B) Thwackum.

(C) Mrs. Waters (D) Blifil

Ans: (A)

Q.6. Who tries to obstruct Nightingale's marriage to Nancy?

(A) His uncle

(C) Nancy

(B) Mrs. Miller

(D) His father

Ans: (D)

Q.7. Mrs. Slipslop is an another immortal...

(A) Satiric creation

(B) Comic creation

(C) Ironic creation

(D) Funny creation

Ans: (B)

Q.8. Joseph Andrews applied most of his liesure time to:

(A) Reading

(C) Music

Ans: (C)

(B) Travelling

(D) Playing

Q.9. Mrs. Slipslope is presented as an extremely ugly sight.

(A) True

Ans: (A)

(B) False

Q.10. Lady Booby appointed Joseph as her:

(A) Servant

(B) Cook-

(C) Watchman

Ans: (D)

Q.11. Who is Lady Booby?

(A) Pamela's sister

(D) Footman

(B) Sir Thomas's wife

[S] Scanned with CamScanner (C) Joseph's friend

Ans: (B) (D) Parson Adam's wife

Q.12. Who is the herione of the story?

(A) Pamela

(B) Mrs. Slipslope

(C) Lady Booby

(D) Fanny Goodwill

Ans: (D)

Q.13. Who was Mr. Tow-wouse?

(A) Inn keeper

(B) Landlord

(C) Horseman

(D) Bishop

Ans: (B)

Q.14. Wilson writes love-letters to:

(A) Himself

(B) Fanny

(C) Mrs. Slipslope (D) His maid

Ans: (A)

Q.15. Joseph's letter to his sister is a clear:

(A) Satire

(B) Parody

(C) Irony.

(D) None of these

Ans: (B)

**UNIT 3 (PART-1)**

## 3. BACKGROUND LESSON FOR PRIDE AND PREJUDICE

**Contents**

1. Objectives

2. Age of Jane Austen

3. Plot

4. Let Us Sum Up

5. Sample Questions

**1. Objectives** :

- to study the conditions of the Age of Sensibility in which Jane Austen wrote her novels

-to study the narrative plot

**2. Age of Jane Austen:**

- an age of historical romances and Gothic tales.

- Jane Austen influenced by Cowper and Goldsmith.

**3. Plot:**

the chief business of Mrs. Bernet's is to find suitable husband for her five daughters.

there is an underlying moral concern in this novel

**Age of Jane Austen:**

The period between the publication of Humphy Clinker in 1771 and that of Wavelty novels of 1814 was maked by the production of fiction, based on the work of Richardson, Fielding, Smollett and Sterne. It is an age of transition and the seed-time of the nineteenth century novel, the novel of manners. Mostly in the hands of women novelists it was refined into the novel of social satire. exmplified by Pride and Prejudice. As a sort of reaction against the novel of manners, a new kind of romance developed with its beginning with the novel of Smollett, leading to the romantic tales of Scott and Cowper. FannyJurney'sEvelina is a novel of manners to describe the more reed contemporary manners. In this

ovel, we have the best caricature of English society before the Revolution. The contemporary life is

source of inspiration and model for imitation to many other women novelists like Maria Edgeworth and Jane Austen. In the Gothic romance, Richardson and Fielding employ the epistolary and dramatic analogies and heroic narratives are replaced by the magic, mystery and chivalry. These changes were initiated by Smollett. Horace Walpole's Castle of Otranto gave a new impulse to romance. Mr Ann Radchiffe's novels with her redundancy of her style, passion for music and wild scenery and her a

ability to awaken wonder and awe is the complete expression of the Gothic romance before Scott.

The new historical romance came into being with the publication of Miss Sophia Lee's Recess telling the tale of the times of Queen Elizabeth. After this, many historical romances were written upto Scott. Many of them portray the contention between the houses of York and Lancaster. It is this kind of work Scott has most successfully carried out in his hostorical novels. However, in Jane Austen's novels, we have the critic of romance and contemporary manners. Her novels mark a reaction from the literature of crime, insanity and the nightmare of romance.

**Jane Austens Life and the Ideas:**

Born on the 16 December, 1775 as Steventon Rectory as the daughter of a country parson, Jane Austen spent her childhood and youth in this obscure place. Her primary interest is in her own fellow -beings, in particular, her own family members. Her father George Austen was gentle and affectionate towards his family and ardently himself to the care of his parish. Among children, James succeeded his father as Steventon. His second son, Edmund, was adopted by Thomas and Catherine Knight. His next son, Henry, was closest to Jane in sympathy and understanding. Cassandra, Jane Austen's sister was closest to her. Francis and Charles enjoyed a reputation for his power of engaging affection. These family members form the focus of Jane Austen's life and her fiction.

Jane Austen was very young when she was introduced to the writings of Johnson, Cowper and Goldsmith, whom she admired greatly. Her social horizon steadily increased, during her stay at Steventon and Bath and Ravling in her expeditions as well as local dances and balls in the big houses. She learned early to discriminate exquisitely between individuals of the same set and social class. Her creative activity began with her first novel called. first impression (renamed as Pride and Prejudice) in 1797. In 1798, she published Northanger Abbey. After the difficulties in personal life, in the form of failure of love in her life and many other personal causes, she published Mansified Park and Emma and Persuasion. She is “a rational woman, exceptional in intellect, unique in wit and endowed with fastidiousness on the one hand and enjoyment on the other, she experiences her experience creatively in the service of comedy. "She passed away in July, 1817.

The excellence of her art lies in her knowledge of the materials which she could handle with a < certainty of purpose. She is able to portray her own world with liveliness, originality and versimilitude.

According to Scott, her' 'exquisite touch which genders, ordinary common place things and characters interesting from the truth of the description and the sentiment.' Macaulay compared her to Shakespeare in the multitude and variety of characters. According to Oliver Elton, she is

"the mistress of the novel of

manners.

**Some themes in Jane Austen's Novels**

There are some recurrent themes in Jane Austen's novels. They are: marriage, disillusionment, self-realization. Her heroines are gifted with a practical common sense. The business of getting people engaged and married is one of the important themes in her imagination, as she has some deep convictions about love and marriage. For her, a young woman should marry for love. certainly, but in satisfactory conditions. All her heroines marry with prudence and common sense. As the mercernary view of marriage is proclaimed by many of her characters and practised by even more of them, this defines Jane Austen's view of marriage. According to Emma, without love, she should be a fool to marry. She believes that few married women are half as much mistress of their husband's house. Elizabeth Bennet makes the most prudent as well as Fanny Price's marriage with Edmund Bertram is equally prudent.

All her heroines have nobilities of character and mind and beauty. Elizabeth repudiates Collins. Fanny rejects Crawford. Anne Ellist refuses to have her crafty cousin. Jane knows much more about love than she cares to tell us explicitly. Apart from love and courtship, a

very important theme of her fiction is the shattering of illusion and painful way to discovery of truth. From her first published novel, Sense and Sensibility to her last novel, she presents her characters who are the victims of various illusions. These illusions have to be gradually removed in the course of the strong and the deluded and deluding men and women have to be awakend to a right sense of their own. Self-restraint and self-recognition are two qualities which she extols in her novels. In Pride and Prejudice, the virtue of self-restraint is taught by the ridicule to which the heady and reckless conduct of Lydia is subjected to. In contrast to her, Elizabeth is always intelligent and selfcontrolled, without ever losing her balance. In Emma we have the self-recognition by Emma out of her self-deception. In Annie Elliot, in Persuasion we have a model of patience and selfrestraint.

**Jane Austen's Irony**:

According to Andrew H.Wright, Jane Austen's novels have three levels of meaning; first, purely local as they represent country life of the upper middleclass of the Southern England at the end of the 18th century; Pride, Prejudice and a number of other virtues and defects are set forth in narrative form; third the ironic level beyond what they embody on symbolic rather than allegorical. With her

deep perception of the contradictions in human experience yielding a detachment and a

detachment which grants a perception. supposes

According to Bailey, every thing goes by contraries in Pride and Prejudice and yet everything is natural and probable. Sometimes the irony lies even in the fulfilment of expectation, as when Charlotte says that it is better to know as little as possible of the defects of the person with whom she is to pass his life. Mr. Bennet thinks Darcy a proud unpleasant sort of man and in his blind detachment from the affairs of his family asks Elizabeth, after hearing of the proposal, whether she had not always hated him. In Mansfied Park, we have the splendid use of irony. The best thing in it is the conversation in which Edmund Bertram either consults Fanny about whether she should propose to marry Crawford or advises her to marry Henry Crawford. The irony consists in his being totally unaware of the fact that all the time Fanny is in love with him. Emma is based on an ironic

percuption life. Emma Mr Elton to be in love with Harriet, Harriet to be in love with Frank Church and Jane Fairfax to be in love with Mr.Dixen, and Mr. Knightley to have some interest in Jane. The main irony occurs in Emma remaining blind as long as blindness is possible to Mr Knightley's devotion to herself and even to her own love for him. In Sense and Sensibility is to be overthrown by sense as illustrates in the prudent marriage which Marianne ultimately makes. Northanger Abbey explores the boundaries of good sense, going beyond the boundaries of satire, with tenderness and perception. In Persnasion the story is one of the conflict between parental authority or prudence on the one hand, and the sanguine hopes for love on the other. In Jane Austen's irony, there is an interested objectivity. She may, be moved in her obsession of human life by her compassion, disgust and laughter, disdain or sympthy, as she perceives the contradiction between appearance and reality. Thus, finally her ironic vision is realized in her fiction in her style and by the use of understatement.

**Jane Austen as Novelist of Manners :**

Jane Austen with her three inches of irony is thus unparallelled in her depiction of a selfcontained and narrow world. She presents a realistic picture of the life of Highbury, or Mansfield Park. In her imagination, the factory, the country mansion, the small town, the professional circle, or Bath or Lyme depicted with realism Mr. Darcy and Emma are conscious of what people in their situations do. With their innate goodness of heart and democratic feelings, they mingle freely with other people below their social status. Jane Austen's art is nearer to Moliere and Congreve. All her six novels can be considered as comedies exposing all the weaknesses and vanities and little snobberies of the social life of her contemporaries. She demonstrates a balanced view of her society and humanity, in general. Lady Catherine de Bourgh, General Tilney. Lord Ossborne Steele's and Thorpes and Mr. Collins and the Eltons and Mr Clay Kery all represent the meanness. selfishness. vanity and lack of proper judgment of all the sections of humanity. Like Chaucer, Jane Austen, also laughs a way with artistic detachment at the foibles of humanity. She mirthfully describes how even the most enlightened people are victims of foolish, judgments as they are slow in achieving some level of selfknowledge of themselves. To this exterms, her men and women like Elizabeth, Emma, Knightly, Darcy, Bingley, Fanny Price are all typical representatives of humanity. In general, in their progression, towards perfection and self- knowledge, Jane Austen's novels of manners are examples of humanity's quest for moral perfection.

**PLOT:**

The chief business of Mrs.Bennet's life was to find suitable husbands for her five daughters.

Consequently she heard with elation that Netherfield Park, one of the great houses of the neighbourhood, had been let to a London gentleman named Mr.Bingley. Gossip such as Mrs. Bennet loved reported him a rich and altogether eligible young bachelor. Mr. Bennet heard the news with his usual dry calmness, suggesting in his mild way that perhaps Bingley was not moving into the country for the single purpose of marrying one of the Bennet daughters.

Mr. Bingley's first public appearance in the neighbourhood was at a ball. With him were his two sisters, the husband of the older, and Mr.Darcy, Bingley's friend. Bingley was an immediate success in local society, and he and Jane, the oldest Bennet daughter, a pretty girl of sweet and gentle disposition, were attracted to each other at once. His friend, Darcy, however, created a bad impression, seeming cold and extremely proud: In particular, he insulted Elizabeth Bennet, a girl of spirit and intelligence and her father's favourite. He refused to dance with her when she was sitting down for lack of a partner, and he said in her hearing that he was in no mood to prefer young ladies slighted by other men. On future occasions, however, he began to admire Elizabeth in spite of himself. At a later ball she had the satisfaction of refusing him a dance.

Jane's romance with Bingley flourished quietly, aided by family calls, dinners, and balls. oriented, in its administrative set-up. His sisters pretended great fondness for Jane, who believed them completely sincere. The more critical and discerning Elizabeth suspected them of hypocrisy, and quite rightly, for they made great fun of Jane's relations, especially her vulgar, garrulous mother and her two ill-bred officer-mad younger sisters. Miss Caroline Bingley, who was eager to marry Darcy and shrewdly aware of his growing admiration for Elizabeth, was especially loud in her rididcule of the Bennet family. Elizabeth herself became Caroline's particular target when she walked three muddy miles to visit Jane, who was sick with a cold at Netherfield Park after a ride through the rain to accept an invitation from the Bingley sisters. Until Jane was able to be moved home, Elizabeth stayed to nurse her. During her visit Elizabeth received enough attention from Darcy to make Caroline Bingley long sincerely for Jane's recovery. Nor were her fears illfounded. Darcy admitted to himself that he would be in some danger from the charm of

Elizabeth, if it were not for her inferior family connections.

Elizabeth now acquired a new admirer in the person of Mr. Collins, a ridiculously pompous clergyman and a distant cousin of the Bennets, who would some day inherit Mr.Bennet's property because that gentleman had no male heir. Mr.Collins' patroness, Lady Catherine de Bourgh, had urged him to marry, and he, always obsequiously obedient to her wishes, hastened to comply. Thinking to alleviate the hardship caused the Bennet sisters by the entail which gave their father's property to him, Mr. Collins first proposed to Elizabeth's best friend, Charlotte Lucas, who twenty-seven and some what homely, accepted at once his offer of marriage.

During Mr. Collins' visit, the younger Bennet sisters, Kitty and Lydia, on one of their many walks to Meryton, met a fascinating with the regiment there. Outwardly charming, he became a favourite among the ladies, even with Elizabeth. She was willing to believe the story that he had been cheated out of an inheritance left him by his godfather, Darcy's father. Her suspicions of Darcy's arrogant and gasping nature deepened when Wickham didn't come to a ball given by the Bingleys, a dance at which Darcy was present.

Soon after the ball, the entire Bingley party suddenly left Netherfield Park. They departed with no intention of returning, as Caroline wrote Jane in a short farewell note which hinted that Bingley might soon become engaged to Darcy's sister. Jane accepted this news at face value and believed that her friend Caroline was telling her gently that her brother loved elsewhere, and that she must cease to hope. Elizabeth, however, was sure of a plot by Darcy and Bingley's sisters to separate him and Jane. She persuaded Jane that Bingley did love her and that he would return to Hertfordshire before the

winter was over. Jane almost believed her until she received a letter from Caroline assuring her that they were all settled in London for her winter. Even after Jane told her this news, Elizabeth remained

convinced of Bingicy's affection for her sister, and deplored the lack of resolution which made him putty in the hands of his designing ...friend.

About that time Mrs. Bennet's sister, Mrs. Gardiner, an amiable and intelligent woman with a great deal of affection for her two oldest nieces, arrived for a Christmas visit. She suggested to the Bennets that Jane return to London with her for a rest and change of scene and so it was understood between Mrs. Gardiner and Elizabeth - to renew her acquaintance with Bingley. Elizabeth, not too hopeful for the success of the plan, pointed out that proud Darcy would never let his friend call on Jane in the unfashionable London street on which the Gardiners lived. Jane accepted the invitation, however, and she and Mrs. Gardiner set out for London.

The time drew near for the wedding of Elizabeth's friend, Charlotte Lucas, to the obnoxious Mr. Collins. Charlotte asked Elizabeth to visit her in Kent. In spite of her feeling that there could be little pleasure in such a visit, Elizabeth promised to do so. She felt that in taking such a husband Charlotte was marrying simply for the sake of an establishment, as was indeed the case. Since she herself could not sympathize with her friend's action, Elizabeth thought their days of real intmacy were over. As March approached, however, she found herself eager to see her friend, and she set out with pleasure on the journey with Charlotte's father and sister, On their way, the party stopped in London to see the Gardiners and Jane, Elizabeth found her sister well and outwardly happy, though she had not seen Bingley and his sisters had paid only one call. Elizabeth was sure Bingley had not been told of Jane's presence in London and blamed Darcy for keeping it from him. Soon after

arriving at the Collins home, the whole party was honored, as Mr.Collins repeatedly assured them, by a dinner invitation from Lady Catherine, a haught, ill-mannered woman and her daughter thin, sickly, and shy. Lady Catherine was extremely fond of inquiring into the affairs of others and giving them unasked advice. Elizabeth turned off the meddling old woman's questions with cool indictness, and saw from the effect that she was probably the first who had dared to do so.

Soon after Elizabeth's arrival, Darcy came to visit his aunt and cousin. He called frequently at the parsonage, and he and Elizabeth resumed their conversational fencing matches-oriented. His rather stilted attentions were suddenly climaxed by a proposal of marriage, but one couched in such proud and condescending terms that Elizabeth indignantly refused him. When he requested her reason for such an emphatic rejection, she mentioned his part in separating Bingley and Jane, and also his mistreatment of Wickham. Angry, he left abruptly, but the next day brought a letter answering her charges, he did not deny his part in separating Jane and Bingley, but he gave as his reasons the improprieties of Mrs. Bennet and her younger daughters, and also his sincere belief that Jane did not love Bingley. As for his alleged mistreatment of Wickham, he proved that he had in reality acted most generously toward the unprincipled Wickham, who had repaid his kindness by attempting to elope with Darcy's young sister. Elizabeth, at first incensed at the proud tones in which he wrote, was at length forced to acknowledge the justice of all he said, and her prejudice against him began to weaken. Without seeing him again, she returned home.

She found her younger sisters clamoring to go to Brighton, where the regiment formerly stationed at Meryton had been ordered. When an invitation came to Lydia from a young officer's wife, Lydia was allowed to accept it over Elizabeth's protests. Elizabeth herself was asked by the Gardiners to go with them on a tour which would take them into Derbyshire, Darcy's home country. She accepted

reasoning that she was not very likely to meet Darcy merely by going into the same country with him. While they were there, however, Mrs. Gardiner decided they should visit Pemberly. Darcy's home. Elizabeth made several excuses, but her aunt was insistent. Then, learning that the Darcy family was not at home, Elizabeth consented to go.

At Pemberly, an unexpected and most embarrassing meeting took place between Elizabeth and Darcy. He was more polite than Elizabeth had ever known him to be, and asked permission for his iser to call was duly paid and returned, but the pleasant intercourse between the Darcy and

Elizabeth's ity was suddenly cut short when a letter he and the Gardiners left
for home at once.

After several days the runaway couple was located and a marriage was arranged between When Lydia came home as heedless as ever, she told Elizabeth that Darcy had attended her

wxdding. Elizabeth, suspecting the truth, learned from Mrs. Gardiner that it was indeed Darcy who brought about the marriage by giving Wickham money.

Soon after Lydia and Wickham left, Bingley came back to Netherfield Park, and with him came I turcy. Elizabeth now more favourably inclined to him than ever before, hoped his coming meant that he was still obviously in love with each other, and became engaged to Elizabeth. Hoping to marry her wn daughter to Darcy, she had charged down with characteristic bad manners to order Elizabeth not to accept his proposal. The spirited girl was not to be intimidated by the bullying Lady Catherine and coolly, refused to promise not to marry Darcy. She was far from certain she would have another chance, but she had not long to wonder. Lady Catherine, unluckily for her own purpose, repeated to Darcy the substance of her conversation with Elizabeth, and he knew Elizabeth well enough to surmise that her feelings toward him had greatly changed. He retuned to Netherfield Park, and he had Elizabeth became engaged. Pride had been humbled and prejudice dissolved.

**4. Let us sum up:**

In this novel, we have studied the social, artistic background of K.Jane Austen's novels. Her plots are three inches of irony of limited world, where there is both elegance, purring and artistic perfection.

**Sample Questions:**

1) Discuss the qualities of the age of sensibility.

2) Consider the themes of Jane Asten's.

## 4. PRIDE AND PREJUDICE

Contents:

1. Objectives

2. Theme

3. Characterization

4. Let Us Sum Up

5. Sample Questions 6.Suggested Reading

### 1. Objectives:

- to study the underlying moral theme of Pride and Prejudice -to study the characterization from an ironic point of view.

### 2. Theme:

-Pride and Prejudice is instructed by deeply disturbing moral issues - Marriage and love are the operating themes.

### 3.Characterization :

-Elizabeth Jane, the moral centre of the narrative

-Darcy, the sober, Though proud "educating" influence on Blizabeth

-Jane, Bingley are the other characters, to offer contrast

**4. Let us sum up: '** In this lesson, we have studied the moral wisdom of restraint, proper judgment, prudence through the incomplete character of Elizabeth, on it achieves some level of perfection.

**1. THEME:**

The theme of Pride and Prejudice, at one level, is love and marriage. The novel has another theme. This is the moral theme. The entire novel centers around the mind and action of Elizabeth. She

is the main character of the novel. Initially, she accuses Darcy of being proud. She prejudices the minds of every body of Darcy's haughty nature. She thinks that Bingley has not married her sister only on the evil advice of Darcy. She also believe that Darcy is responsible for the elopment of her sister Lydia with Mr. Wickhem. But Darcy finally proves himself to a noble man.

Instead of hating Elizabeth for what she has imagined against him, he excuses her ignorance.

Thus, finally, it is proved that it is Elizabeth who is proud is really prejudiced against Darcy. Thus, the title of the novel, Pride and Prejudice is proved through the character of Elizabeth.

In this novel, Elizabeth and DArcy form one pair of lovers. They have more or less similar nature. Both are intelligent and resourceful. They analyse their nature. Elizabeth becomes unduly prejudiced against Darcy. She meets him for the first time at the ball in her house. In that famous ball, Darcy does not show any particular interest in dancing with her. Then immediately she concludes that he is proud. This is the beginning of her misunderstanding of Darcy. Darcy demostrates a rare degree of reason and mature wisdom. He is unhurried in his estimation of the minds and personalities of people. The novel begins with Darcy and Bingley in the ball. MrBennet is the father and Mrs.Bennet is the mother. They have five daughters. Jane is their eldest daughter Elizabeth is their second daughter. She consider herslf to be the most intelligent and resourceful of her sisters. She is undoubtedly a keen observer of people and their manners. She has a practical wisdom of life. Mary is her sister. She spends her time in reading cheap books. Catherine and Lydia indugle in man-hunting. One day, the Bennets were invited by Darcy and Bingley for a ball to their house in Hertford-shire. In the ball, Bingley dances

with Jane. He suggests that Darcy can dance with Elizabeth. He is handsome. He has easy and pleasant manner. He has natural and unaffected manners. His sisters are also of fine nature. Darcy wins the attention of every body. When Bingley suggests that he can dance with Elizabeth, he refuses her hand.Elizabeth fails to attract him. Jane forms a positive opinion of Darcy. Generally she does not hate anybody. Jane is in love with Bingley.

Bingley also loves her. In contrast, Elizabeth is a vain woman. he is the most delightful heroine in the English novel. She captivates us with charm and rare brilliance. She has intellectual charm. Her high spirits always attract others. She has gaiety. She has ready with and good sense. She also has delightful humour. She may not be as beautiful as her sister, Jane, but she is certainly more resourcerful. She has enchanting beauty, in her eyes she has a rare vitality. She is emotionally alert and spiritually pure. Her common sense if remarkable.

However, in comparison, Darcy appears to be more balanced than Elizabeth. He is a better judge of people and circumstances. Elizabeth has two faults they are pride and prejudice. She is proud. about herself and is prejudiced against others. She has too much self-respect the irony of the novelcentres around on Elizabeth thinking that she is right and Darcy is proud. However, Darcy.is a more mature character. He realizes her real heart. He loves her. ardently with all her faults. Thus. Elizabeth 'realises' herself. This is the real theme of the novel. Darcy gives Elizabeth a very important letter.

In that letter, he explains the true situation.. This makes Elizabeth understand the real nature of Darcy. She feels ashamed of herself. She realizes that she is blind to the real self of Darcy. From nowonwards, she truly loves him. Her hatred for him disappears. She begins to respect him. She shows gratitude to him. It is her gratitude to him for helping her family. Darcy's role in rescuing Lydia from the cruel hands a wickham is remarkable.

Thus, the theme of the novel centers around the two ideas of pride and prejudice. Ultimately, she gets self-knowledge. She "realizes" herself. This is the ultimate meaning of the novel.

**3. Characterization**

**1.Elizabeth Jane** :

Elizabeth is easily one of the best and most sucessful characters. Like a typical Shakespearean hercine, she combines in herself three qualities: beauty, intelligence and good character. She is "one of the five heroines of nineteenth century". She is the cleverest, wittiest and wisest character. She represents writer's own self. She is captivating figure". She has high spirits and beautiful dialogues. She has the ready repartee. She has good sense and good brought-up. She has allround gaiety and unfailing courage, wiland resourcefulness. She also has very delightful humour.

She is one of the five daughters of the Bennets. She is the best of all the five sisters. She has dark and imaginative eyes. She has a deeply reflective mind. Darcy is continuously drawn to her bewitching (attractive) eyes. She also has inner beauty. She has a liveliness of mind. Physically she is vital, mentally same and spiritually and emotionally disciplined and

controlled. She is gifted with humour and there is no place for melancholy in her thoughts and actions. She never praises anybody. She is not a hypocrite.

There is however growth in her character. She is drawn realistically. She estimates Darcy, character in a wrong manner. She thinks that he is proud. That is her prejudice. She has an overbearing sense of self-respect. She has great confidence in her estimation of others. She thinks that Darcy is proud. This shows her fallible nature. But she has no ill-will towards Darcy. She first meets him in the ball. Darcy finds, at the begining, that she is too simple a girl to select for dancing. This comment hurts Elizabeth's mind. She thinks that he is proud man. All her assessment of Darcy starts from this “first impression". She thoroughly misunderstands him. She thinks that he is really responsible for the initial failure of Jane. Bingley's marriage, she even goes to the extent to believe that Darcy is responsible for Lydia's elopment with Wickham.

It goes to the credit of Darcy he does not at all misunderstand Elizabeth. He gives the reasons for his behaviour in a letter addressed to Elizabeth's mind. She thus grows from her "prejudice" about Darcy's pride and begins to like Darcy even more. At the end of the novel, she becomes ashamed of herself. Her miconception about him begins respect for him. Finally it becomes gratitude to him. She is grateful to him and she drops all her accusations against him. She respects him. In comparison, to her sister Jane, Elizabeth is more intelligent. She might have flawed in her estimation of Darcy. But she is perfectly right in the estimation of other characters.

Ultimately,' she represents Jane Austen's ownself. Jane Austen has given Elizabeth her own intelligence and dynamic nature. Like her own creator,Elizabeth loves and laughs with a critical and even satirical insight into life. According to Jane Austen herself, Elizabeth Bennet is one " as delighful creature as ever appeared in print, as she is the cleverest witteiest, liveliest and most like Jane Austen herself. For Prof Dobson, Elizabeth is a captivating figure". She is intellectually engaging as she is endowed with exceptional charm. Her high spirit with her perfect command of epigrammatic expression her ready gift of 'repartee' and her admirable gift of for taking care for herself. According to Carnish, "her gaiety, high spirit and courage, wit and readines and good sense and highr feelings are set off and made individual and delightful with her humour all make Elizabeth as a nearly complete character". Though endowed with lesser beauty than her sister Jane, she is intellectually superior to her siter.

She has a rare sort of loveliness of mind. 'Physically vital, she is mentally balanced and sane, as well as emotionally and spiritually organized. Endowed with a superb sense of humour, she can make others overcome their melancholic statdof,mind. She never tries to please others as she is not hypocritical. She pleases others by her elegant replies. Though Darcy and she may represent the qualities of pride and prejudice. They are born our of desirable merits of self respect and intelligence. In the narrative action, Darcy's pride leads to prejudice and Elizabeth's prejudice comes from a pride in her own perception thus

leading to the ironic interest in the narrative. Elizabeth shows a clear accumen to discern and comprehend people and situations, in her response to the behaviour of William Collins. However, she may fully comprehend the minds of Characters like Darcy charlotte Lucas and George Wickham.

As Elizabeth does not fully try to understand him, her first encounter with him leads to her continuous misunderstanding. Darcy tells Bingley thus about Elizabeth: "she is tolerable; but not handsome enough to tempt me; and I am in no humour at present to give consequence to young ladies who are blighted by other men, and these words naturally set in motion Elizabeth's less than cordial feelings to Darcy. With the insult of the ball, fresh in her mind, she does not like him.

However, Darcy realizes the good of Elizabeth's heart. He tells her thus "in vain have I struggled. It will not do. You must allow me to tell you how ardently of admire and love you". After reading Darcy's letter to her, she realizes then that she was "blind, partial prejudiced and absurd" she cries thus".

How despicabley have I acted!. I who have prided myself on mydiscernmennt I who have valued myself on my abilities! Who have often disdained the generous candour of my sister, and gratifier my vanity in useless or blameabledistruct". As she realizes her mistake, she really did not hate him. She respected him for his simple nature and trustworthy quatily. She is grateful to him for his valuable service to their family Lydia Wickham incident and the role played by Darcy in making Wickham marry Lydia after the elopment strengthens her love for him, as she utimately gives her consent for marriage with him. As to the autobiagraphical quality of Elizabeth's character, it is very difficult to say. However, Jane Austen endowes her with a rare vivacity and charming intelligence to make her one of the immortal creations of English language.

**2. Darcy:** Fitzwilliam Darcy is the hero of the novel. He is the proprietor of pemberlay estates. He is the centre of action. He is always talked about in the novel. He not only sets right Elizabeth's thinking, but also sets right the lives of Bingley and Jane and Lydia and Wickham. He is gifted with a keen intellect and a truly sympathetic and friendly heart. He is an excellent judge of people. We do not see him directly, except through the eyes and imagination of Elizabeth. We share her prejudices against him from the begining to the middle of the novel and we shake off our prejudices only when Elizabeth perceives the truth about him. From the middle of the novel to the end, his character steadily improves in our eyes. He is a perfect gentleman. He is a typical and ideal hero. He is young, handsome, active, good and considerate to others. He is also proud. He speaks with a serene confidence about people and matters of the world. He thinks others inferior to himself. However; this is not a conceitfulbehaviour. He is always a confident and well educated man with a lofty, aristocratic look. First Darcy believes that the Bennets are not a suitable family for his friend Bingley. His friend should therefore be warned against the

indiscretion of marrying Jane. He feels satisfied from his own observation that Jane is indifferent to his friend. Therefore, he tries to stop their love and romance. But he later realizes the genuinely good nature of Jane and agrees for their marriage.

He is a rationalist.He does not give undue importance to excessive emotion or sentimentalism. He gracefully accepts his lack of judgement of people. He continuously changes his opinion of Elizabeth. His vanity is hurt when he knows that Elizabeth does not take his hand automatically.

Her extremely keen intellect blunt his placid and rational and broad mind. This "punishment" is the turning point in his career. His character is facing two charges; one that he has obstructed Jane's marriage to Bingley; the second, that he is responsible for Lydia's elopment. But, in both thecases, he is a mature gentleman. He is always looked upto for his mature advice and responsibel advice.

Elizabeth acts as a charming influence on his matter-of-fact mind. Darcy's sincerity and devotion to Elizabeth make him the true hero of the novel. Under the influence of Elizabeth, Darcybecomes polite, sympathetic and unselfish. He sacrifices his own pride. He is conscious of the influence of Elizabeth on his changing character. She has taught him a lesson. He is very good at heart. He is a good, and balanced and youthful hero, on the whole.

Fitzwilliam Darcy the hero of th novel is the proprieter of the pemberley estates, on he is the moral and ethical center of the narrative. He is presenter through Elizabeth's vision. Elizabeth creats his negative image as also recreats his regained self in her vision and estimation. As he is young handsome agile and good, he is proud, too. From the beginning of the narrative, he believes that the Bennets are not the suitable family, for his friend Bingley to marry. His friend should be warned against the indiscretion of marrying Jane. He therefore believes that he should use his intelligence to stop Bingley from marrying Jane. However, he never believes that his judgement is infalliable. He falls in love with Elizabeth against his own reason.. He believes that she wonts marry him. He is the egotisr event in his love. Elizabeth rejects him at once, moking him realize that she rejects him.

This punishment is the turning - point in his career. As he stands acquitted before us of two grave charges, his treatment of wickham. Under her influence, he learns to be polite, sympathetic and unselfish. She sacrifies his pride to go to the man, who detests the most, that is, Wickham and to persuade him to do justice to Lydia. He tells Elizabeth then: "I have been selfish being all my life in practice though not in principle. I was given good principles, buy left to follow them in pride and conceit. "He tells that as the only son, he was spoilt by my parents. Who taught me to be selfish and overbearing". He tells that she showed him the higher path to reform himself. According to John Baily, "we enjoy him to

fall in love with him Elizabeth". According to Chapman, he outreaches Jane Austen's imagination. Darcy and Wickham are contrasting figures.

In contrast between Darcy and Wickham, both of whom are drawn to Elizabeth, an eintricate and intelligent to match her penetrating insighs. If Darcy is proud and vain, according to Elizabeth, Wickham is at once the most plausible and villainous of Jane - Austen's anti-heroes, as he is persuasive disingenuous, calculating and dishonourable. Darcy and Wickham are virtually perfect agents of disillusionment. If Darcy shows the elevated levels of rational judgement, Wickham is irrational. If Darcy is highly restrained in his passions, Wickham is unregulated in his passions. In one word, if Darcy is the hero, Wickham is the villain with his moral imperfection.

**5. Sample Questions** :

I) Discuss the significance of the title, Pride and Prejudice

2) Discuss characterization of Pride and Prejudice

**6. Suggested Reading :**

Pride and Prejudice (Introduction)-A.C Ward A Concise History of English Literature -

Prof G Sampson.

**UNIT 3(PART-2)**

## George Eliot: Life and Career

### Birth and Parentage

Mary Ann Evans, later to become famous as George Eliot, was the daughter of Robert Evans, a land agent for Sir Francis Newdigate'sArbury Hall Estate. Robert Evans was a remarkable man. His position as the manager of the estate demanded the knowledge of agriculture, forestry, mining etc. He was of peasant stock and has had very little education. He was a self-made man who was greatly admired for his physical strength and respected for his knowledge in Warwickshire community. People respected his opinion on land and its ownership.

**Father's Influence**

Mary Evans was born on 22nd November, 1819, at Arbury Farm. She was the youngest daughter of her father, who dominated her early life. He, more than any other single influence, was responsible for making her the writer she was. She herself writes, "I considered him a parent so much to my honourthat the mention of my relationship to him was likely to secure for me regard among those to whom otherwise a stranger-my father's stories from his life included so many names of distant persons that my imagination placed no limit to his acquaintanceship". George Eliot admired and respected her father. At the beginning and end of her career we see portraits of Robert Evans appearing in her novels, for instance, Adam Bede in the novel of that name and Caleb Garth in Middlemarch.

Mary, also called Marian, saw the times of her childhood through the eyes of her father. Four years before her birth the Napoleonic wars had ended. England during those years had undergone political and economic upheaval. Robert Evans was a conservative and the French Revolution had left an 'indelible impression on him.' He disliked innovators and dissenters. "Marian's life and career were to take paths that Robert Evans could scarcely have conceived, paths that led straight into a most dangerous and nefarious radicalism and dissent." But she was also her father's daughter to the end and so conservative elements too, mingle and temper her radicalism.

**Girlhood: Early Impressions**

The birth of Mary Ann, left her mother Christiana Evans broken in health. She was disappointed in her plain faced youngest child. Her favouritewas her son Isaac and she was very proud of her pretty, well-behaved elder daughter Chrissey. Mary Ann, consequently, felt insecure and unhappy and she began early to create a world of her own for herself. Her brother, Isaac,



was her closest companion and on him she showered all her love and affections. She was also close to her father who was very proud of her intelligence of which he liked to boast. From a very early age, he used to take her with him on his business tours and drives through the countryside. She writes, "I was my father's constant companion in his out-door

business, riding by his side on my little pony and listening to the lengthy dialogues he held with Darby or Jone, the one on the road or in the field, the other outside or inside her door." She saw the countryside through the eyes of her father, "Standing between her father's knees while he drove around leisurely" through the countryside in his gig. Mary Ann enjoyed the beauty of the countryside and thus acquired intimate knowledge of the life of the country folk. She grew familiar with all the neighbouring farms and the early impressions of the countryside and the country folk left an indelible mark on her. This countryside and the people, whom she loved, she constantly used in her novels. Sometimes Robert Evans left the young child with the servants while he conferred with the master of the house. She listened to the servants gossip, to their dialect, and observed the mannerisms of the peasants who frequently stopped to talk to her father to seek his advice. The mannerisms, dialect and superstitions of these people were later realistically presented in the novels.

Mary Ann Evans was a country born girl reared in the country-side and among rustics. Born on a farm of the early nineteenth century rural England, her roots were down in the pre-railroad, pretelegraphic period. She was brought up at Arbury Farm, somewhat similar to the Hall Farm of the Poysers, amid the everyday sights and sounds of farm life. Later on, in life. she travelled widely through England, Scotland, Wales, Italy, Germany and Switzerland with friends and with George Henry Lewes. In this way was her keenly observant and penetrating mind widened by varied influences. But the most potent influence which fertilisedher soul, which could never be displaced, was the influence of the countryside where her childhood and maidenhood were passed.

The early impressionswere never unforgotten. Says Leslie Stephen "in her childhood, of course, she took the colouringof her surroundings and it is this fact which makes her a great regional novelist." She grew and matured prior to the time of steam engines and electric telegraphs. When she was a little girl, she writes in her introduction to Felix Holt, "the glory had not yet departed from the old coach-roads, the great roadside inns were still brilliant with well polished tankards, the smiling glances of pretty barmaids, and the repartees of jocose ostlers; the mail still announced itself by the merry notes of the horn." In her childhood the great sensational event of the day was the passing of two coaches

which ran between Birmingham and Stanford. Mary Ann and her brother Isaac watched for its appearance everyday and it was missed, when later, it was replaced by the railways.
Mary Ann's school education came to an end early, because of the illness of her mother whom she had to look after and also do housekeeping for the

family. But the education that she received from the book of nature and the countryside was lasting and permanent. This countryside always kept a stronghold on her and she returns to it again and again in her novels. She was intimately familiar with the scenes and sights of the English Midlands and the customs and mannerisms of the rustics coloureven her Romola which has a Florentine and Renaissance setting.

**Self-Education**

As they grew up, Isaac was given a pony, and he was completely absorbed with riding and Mary Ann was left alone, and felt isolated. For amusement she turned to books. Books now became a passion with her and she read everything she could lay her hands upon. According to J.W. Cross she could get very few books and she read them again and again until she knew them by heart. Her favouriteswere Aesop's Fables and later, like Maggie Tulliver, she became fond of the History of Devil by Daniel Defoe. She also read The Vicar of Wakefield with pleasure as also Joe Miller's Jest Book, The Pilgrims' Progress and Rasselas.

**Scott: His Influence**

But the author she loved most of all was Sir Walter Scott. Sir Walter Scott first introduced her to the writing of fiction. Sir Walter Scott influenced her profoundly. Walter Allen comments, "Not only did she discover through him the possibilities of fiction but his fundamentally Tory imagination also reinforced, as it perhaps humanisedher father's Tory influence on her". Scott's example encouraged in her use of dialect. This she felt essential for the portrayal of the life of rustics and peasants of the Midland. F.R. Leavisrightly says, "The precedent of Scott was obviously a strength to her. Scott was deeply effected by the romantic history of his beloved Scotland. He loved his country and was familiar with all her legends and folk lore." As a novelist his object was, "to set his heroes and events firmly in a historical context, and to extend the social range of the novel so that it included not

simply the traditional middle-class characters but figures of the nobility and peasantry as well." These were also the aims of George Eliot. Her birthplace and the surroundings of her youth had made a permanent impression on her. The English Midlands, the humble rustics, their plain daily life, are the setting, the background, and the characters, she writes about.

Later she paid glorious tributes to the teacher from whom she learnt to be a novelist and who influenced her tremendously, but at the same time she was aware of the fact that his "mode of presentation" was not enough for the novelist she meant to be. But she had deep affinities with the writer of Waverley. "His treatment of the remembered past, the strong imaginative piety that gives life and depth to his evocation, was wholly congenial to her." What Scott did for the Scots, George Eliot was to do for the English Midland rustics and their life.

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**At School: Religious Fervour**

Robert Evans recognized his daughter's keen intelligence and decided to give her the best education, as it was within his means. It was in her eighth or ninth year that she went to Miss Wallington's School at Nuneaton. At the school she met Miss Maria Lewis, the governess, who took a keen interest in her. Miss Lewis was an ardent Evangelist and her immediate influence was to intensify young Mary Ann's religious fervour. She realisedthat Mary Ann needed and desired great deal of love and that she was a child of extraordinary intelligence. She instilled in her pupil a genuine love for poetry and literature. She remained an intimate friend and correspondent for life.

The religious influence of the governess was not frowned upon by Mary Ann's mother, and Robert Evans was not worried by the fact that his daughter had become a Calvinist. Miss Lewis stressed on a diligent study of the scriptures and under her influence Mary Ann read the Bible over and over again during her four years stay at that school. Later on in life, the novelist recognized the dangers of such religious fervour, so much so that in The Mill on the Floss Philip Wakemcautions Maggie Tulliveragainst it.

At the age of thirteen, Mary Evans was sent to Miss Rebecca Franklin's School in Coventry. One of the first things that Mary Ann learnt was a different type of

pronunciation. The broad Midland dialect that she had spoken all her life had been much modified by Miss Lewis and now it was completely banished by the cultivated speech at the new school. After her stay there she came to be admired by her friends for her "low, well- modulated musical voice." She was given lessons in music, drawing, English History, French and arithmetic. Miss Rebecca made her translate pages of Maria Edgeworth'snovels into French. She read avidly the novels of Miss Edgeworththefirst regional novelist.

She relished Maria Edgeworth'sstories of the Irish peasants, their customs, traditions, superstitions and mannerisms. She also read a number of English writers-Shakespeare, Milton, Isaac Watts, Southey, Pope, Young, Cowper and Byron. Miss Franklin was a liberal and did not forbid her pupils to read novels. Mary Ann read Bulwer Lyton's'novels', and, of course, the novels of her favourite, Scott. Under the influence of Franklin, she adopted their religious views with enthusiasm but never joined the Baptist Church to which they belonged. She always regarded herself as belonging to the Church of England.

The House-keeper

In 1836, the novelist's mother died and her formal education came to an end. Her sister was already married, and so she ran their house now. She was never close to her mother, her father was "the one deep, strong love I have ever known." Her father missed her mother and Marian tried to fill her place as best as she could. In the evenings, she would read to him the novels of Sir Walter Scott, for he liked them. Though she was no longer at school, her education continued without interruption for she read incessantly while house-keeping and cooking. Tutors came from Coventry to teach her German, Italian and music. Her religious zeal also did not weaken. Evangelical religion governed her mode of thought and feelings as is clear from her novels. Even when she discarded Christianity, she clung to the ethical conceptions of God, duty, responsibility and man's awful destiny. These remained with her to the very end of her life.

**Wordsworth: His Influence**

Her Evangelical fervourbegan cooling in the year 1839. Secular matters now had greater hold on her mind. She revelledin the study of the Romantics and enjoyed reading Wordsworth, Byron, Shelley, Coleridge and Southey. Wordsworthwas now her favouritepoet. She was impressed by Wordsworth's philosophy and his respect for the

common man. His humble people, "The Reaper", "The Leech Gatherer" all gained strength from the land they worked on. Wordsworth's influence can be traced in George Eliot's works. "There was much in his natural mysticism that she never, at any time, disowned."

**Widening Horizons: The Brays and Their Circle**

Even though Mary Ann read voraciously, she was "marooned in the wastes of Warwickshire." There was little to satisfy her imagination and release it from construction at Griff (her home so far). But the release came in 1841 when her father decided to retire in favourof his son, Isaac. Robert Evans and Mary Ann now moved to a house called Bird Grove, in Coventry. This change meant an immense widening of Mary Ann's mental horizon. It was now that she came into contact with the Brays and their circle of friends. Charles Bray was to have most profound influence on Mary Ann's thinking. He had been a fervent Evangelicalistwho had married into a Unitarian family and later had become a religious skeptic. The Brays house, Rosehill, on the outskirts of the city, was a centreof local intellectual life and activity. Through this new circle of friends Mary Ann was introduced to a completely different world of thought and it was during this period that the foundations of her mode of thinking were laid.

**Spiritual Doubts and Conflicts**

At the Bray's house Mary Ann met intellectuals like Robert Owen, the manufacturer, socialist, philanthropist, the economist and journalist, Harriet Martineau, and Ralph Waldo Emerson. She thus came into contact with men and women who had dedicated their lives to the pursuit of intellectual honesty and truth. Her beliefs were deeply shaken and soon she was in the throes of spiritual doubts very similar to the spiritual doubts of Maggie Tulliverin The Mill on the Floss. She was now an educated young lady who made friends with young intellectuals and dared to form her own religious beliefs in direct opposition to her father's faith. She now discarded her old beliefs and stopped attending church. This brought her into direct conflict with her father who was a staunch church-man. He and other relatives were outraged by her skepticism. Robert
Evans blamed the Brays for this

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rebellion. But Marian remained adamant in her beliefs and finally left her father to live with her brother Isaac. Her father was persuaded by Isaac, Miss Hennelland the Brays to take her back.

Though, later, she returned to church going, she did never return to her old beliefs.

In the Brays she found people of a like nature, thought and belief. They sympathisedwith her radical views. The Brays and the other intellectuals who visited them were impressed by her intelligence and learning. She could hold her own among this distinguished company. Exchange of views with them were frequent and this considerably widened the outlook and sympathy of the novelist.

**Father's Death: European Tour**

Robert Evans died on the night of May 31, 1849. A few hours earlier Marian had written to the Brays: "What shall I be without my father? It will seem as if part of my moral nature were gone." In this time of grief and despair, the Brays came to her rescue and took her with them on a tour of Europe. When the Brays returned, she stayed behind in Switzerland.

"Westminster Review" and John Chapman

On her return to England on March 23, 1850, she found conditions at home much changed, and she missed the work and duty of caring for her father. She felt lonely and constantly visited the Brays, where she met John Chapman, a young publisher, who was about to buy the Westminster Review, a contemporary periodical. He wanted to revive it with articles from eminent critics and writers. Chapman was impressed by Marian's intellect and persuaded her to join him as an assistant editor. Thus she became a frequent visitor to 142 Strand, London, the office of the Westminster Review. John Chapman lived there with his wife and governess-mistress Miss Tilly.

He was soon in love with the inexperienced, and hungry for love Marian, and she responded to his love. Marian, may have been plain-looking and provincial but she was intellectually well off. Both wife and mistress began to resent this love and they joined hands in persuading Chapman to send her home. This was a great humiliation for Marian, and she went back to Coventry in a state of misery. The experience was emotionally shattering for her. She was thirty- one now and wondered if the natural fulfilment of being

a wife and mother would ever be hers. But Chapman could not do without Marian's valuable assistantship and so soon he persuaded her to return. She returned, but strictly for business. There was no question of love any more.

**Fame and Recognition**

Her position as one of the editors of Westminster Review brought her into contact with large number of distinguished visitors. At different times, she met Dickens, Thackeray, Carlyle, Emerson, Harriet Martineau, Mrs. Gaskell, Forster and Louis Blanc. The most celebrated men of the day accepted her as an equal and at gatherings of intellectuals she was often the only woman. Her conversation astonished all, and she was treated as an equal.

In October 1851, she met Herbert Spencer who had just brought out his Social Statistics. He was an important contributor to the Westminster Review. He was attracted by Marian's intellect and was to be an intimate friend of hers for life. Intellectually he and Marian had everything in common and Marian was emotionally attracted to him. He never offered her marriage and she had to be contented with friendship.

**George Lewes Love and Union**

Marian knew George Henry Lewes through his work as he was also a contributor to the Westminster Review, but she came to know him better through Herbert Spencer, whose close friend he was. Lewes was two years older and had a background completely different from hers. When Marian met him he had already acquired fame as a gifted and versatile man of letters. He was a well-known literary and drama critic, novelist and actor. He had a wide knowledge of the literatures of Greece, Rome, France, Germany, Italy and Spain. His works ranged from literary biographies to children's books and natural history. His one work of classical stature is The Life and Works of Goethe. His personal life was a tragic one. In 1840 he married a young woman Agnes, who was not only beautiful but talented. As a measure of economy the Lewes were sharing a large house in Bayswaterwith Thornton Hunt. Lewes and his friends had advanced ideas on love and marriage. Taking advantage of the views of Lewe., his wife, transferred her love to Hunt. Lewes was thoroughly disillusioned with free love. He did not blame Agnes but hid his bitterness

behind a flippant mask. Unfortunately, he could not divorce her under the existing Victorian laws.

Lewes was a vivacious and charming man who was welcome at any party. He was a brilliant conversationalist. He was even plainer than Mary Evans. But his great charm and wit pleased Marian inspiteof herself. He was volatile and flippant, yet he also was drawn to the austere moralist Mary. He was impressed by her immense intellectual curiosity. They were interested in the same things.

Lewes provided the affection and love Marian needed. He was someone she could lean on and lavish her love unreservedly. Marian after much serious thinking decided to throw in her lot with George Lewes. She began to live with him as his mistress. Her family and friends were stunned. She was ostracized by society for living in sin. Even though their union was not legal, they found deep joy in each other. Her friends in Coventry were shocked by her act and were not reconciled with her for a long time. This must have saddened her but she gave no evidence of her sorrow and accepted her lot without bitterness.

**Literary Career: Lewes' Influence**

As Lewes did not enjoy good health, they left for Berlin in 1854 for a change. During their sojourn in Berlin, Marian found among her papers the MS of a story written years before. She read it to Lewes who was greatly impressed by the power and keen observation which it revealed.

Says Joan Bennett, "the creative gift in her, which he did so much to discover and to



foster, produced books of timeless value while his own voluminous works were in their very nature ephemeral." In 1856 encouraged by Lewes she wrote a story-The Sad Fortunes of the Rev. Amos Barton. The story was published under the name of "George Eliot" by Blackwood. J.W. Cross gives us the reason which lead her to select this pen-name." "George' was Mr. Lewes's Christian name and 'Eliot' was a good-mouth filling, easily pronounced name."

It was Lewes's influence and encouragement that launched George Eliot, the novelist. It was through Lewes that she discovered her genius. He protected her from the pin-pricks and harsh criticism of the outside world; he conducted all her business transactions. In a letter to Sara HennellNovember 19, 1872, George Eliot wrote: "Mr. Lewes makes a martyr of himself in writing all my notes and business letters. Is that not a sublime husband? For all the while there are studies of his own being put aside.....studies which are a seventh heaven to him."

George Eliot matured and flourished in the love of George Lewes. She had found happiness in her relationship with him and she showed her appreciation of, and devotion to, Lewes by dedicating the manuscript of Felix Holt to him.

**Lewes' Death-Marriage with J.W. Cross**

With the death of George Henry Lewes on the 30th November 1878, the literary career of George Eliot came to an end. It was a heavy blow to her. Her letters of this period are touching because of her sense of loneliness and desolation. Later, in May 1880, she married J.W. Cross, who was much younger than herself. This marriage came as a complete surprise to everybody, but George Eliot, even at this stage, wanted someone whom she could love and whom she could depend upon. Rev. J.W. Cross was twenty years her junior. He was a friend of years, a friend much loved and trusted by Mr. Lewes and one who knowing that “I alone sees his happiness in the dedication of his life to me." Says A.C. Ward "She lived only till December 1880, a seven month's wife whose legal marriage was received with more widespread disfavourthan her quarter of a century as Lewes's mistress, a position she had seemed to dignify. As a wife, the great George Eliot dwindled briefly into the common-place Mrs. Cross." Such is the life and career of one of the greatest novelists of England.

**UNIT 3 (PART-3)**

**Outline Story of the Novel**

The Mill on the Floss narrates the story of Maggie Tulliver, and how she was repressed and crushed by an unfavourable social environment. At the time the story begins she is 'a little wild thing' about nine years of age, living with her parents Mrs. and Mr. Tulliver. Mr. Tulliver is a farmer who, besides his farm and the farm-house, also owns the Dorlcote Mill situated on the river Floss in the parish of St. Ogg's. It is a very rigid and conservative society which is intolerant of any departures from the accepted social norms.

Born in such an environment poor Maggie suffers intensely and ultimately dies a tragic death. However, she is comparatively happy as a child. She has a brother Tom, whom she adores, and in whose company she passes some of the happiest days of her life. But she feels most unhappy and miserable when Tom is angry with her and rebukes her or refuses to play with her. Maggie is highly sensitive and emotional, and in such moments of misery and wretchedness she withdraws to her own room at the top of the house, and expresses her anger beating a doll which she keeps there. Several examples of Maggie's emotional and impulsive actions are given by the novelist. For example, one day Tom refuses to play with her, but plays with their cousin Lucy.

In a fit of temper, Maggie pushes Lucy, she falls down and is covered with mud all over. Then frightened, she runs away to a gypsy camp in the neighbourhood. The gypsies are kind to her, and she returns home by nightfall. Besides such occasional neglect on the part of her brother, poor Maggie has also to suffer the taunts and rebukes of her three uncles and aunts-the Gleggs, the Pullets, the Deans-and her own mother, who is the fourth Dodson sister. It is only Mr. Tulliver who is sympathetic, and takes her side whenever someone of the uncles and aunts or her own mother rebukes her.

Despite such occasional causes of suffering, Maggie's childhood is on the whole, happy and carefree. But alas! this happy childhood comes to an end, quite too soon. Tom, is sent for education to one Rev. Walter Stelling, and Maggie misses his company very much. She has no playmate now. One of the fellow students of Tom at Stelling's is Philip Wakem, the son of a lawyer, with whom Mr. Tulliver is not on good terms. During her visit to Tom for a few days, Maggie becomes friendly with Philip. She is sympathetic to him, because he suffers a physical deformity, and cannot lead a normal life. Later, this sympathy assumes the form of love. While Tom studies with Rev. Stelling, Maggie, too, goes to school with her cousin Lucy. But suddenly and too soon their education comes to an end. Mr. Tulliver had been constantly engaged in litigation with a neighbouring

**OUTLINE STORY OF THE NOVEL**

farmer, and was in heavy debt consequently. He lost the case and had to pay heavy amounts towards the clearance of the debt to lawyer Wakem who had purchased all his pronotes. Unable to bear the stress and strain so caused, he fell seriously ill and Tom and Maggie had to return home to look to their tick father and to financial matters. Their carefree school days thus suddenly come to an end, and they had to face life without the loving and protecting care of their father. The Dodson uncles and aunts are not of much help. They give good advice, rebuke them for trifles, but do nothing to save their belongings, from being sold. Their mother also cares more for her favourite items of furniture or linen than for the sick husband or for the future of her children.

In course of time, Mr. Tulliver recovers. He agrees to act as the manager of the farm and the Mill which have been purchased by the lawyer, Wakem. It is a great humiliation for Mr. Tulliver but he agrees so that the family may continue to live in their own house, and also have some means of livelihood. But before he does so, he makes Tom and Maggie swear on the family Bible that they will take revenge on lawyer Wakem, for all the wrongs he had done to them. Tom also rises to the occasion. From a mere boy he matures into a determined youngman. With the help of his uncle, Deane, he gets a job in the firm Guest and Co., and by dint of his honest and sincere work, earns rapid promotions, and saves as much as he can, so that they may be able to buy back the family property. One of his boyhood friends, Bob Jakins, helps him to invest money in a very profitable business with the result that much sooner than was expected they are able to buy back their house and their Mill.

On his return home from the celebration at which his creditors are paid, Mr. Tulliver meets Wakem and attacks him in a fit of vindictive triumph. This, however, is too much for Mr.

Tulliver's weakened state of health and he dies the next day.

After her father's death, Maggie goes off to be a governess, and we next see her at the age nineteen when she has come to spend a month or two with Lucy. She has grown into a beautiful young lady. She meets Stephen Guest, who is Lucy's accepted suitor, although they are not yet engaged. Philip also is a regular visitor. Maggie and Philip had met secretly and were already lovers. But Tom had objected to their coming together, and had forbidden Maggie to meet him. She and Stephen are immediately interested in one another, although they do not recognise this as love. Lucy wishes Philip to continue his visits to the house so that they may all enjoy musictogether, but Maggie feels that she cannot agree to Philip's visit without taking the permission of Tom who is harshly unsympathetic at the thought of her seeing Philip again.

Tom has been such a success with Guest and Company that he becomes a partner in it although he is only twenty-three. Meanwhile, Maggie enjoys a life of happy leisure. She and Stephen grow more and more conscious of their feeling for one another. Lucy is unaware of this, but Philip's love for Maggie makes him jealously conscious of it. Stephen at last expresses his feelings toward Maggie openly. She is outraged and goes on a visit to her aunt Moss, but Stephen follows her and she admits her love for him. On her return to St. Ogg's, Maggie and Stephen continue to see each other.

A pleasure trip on the river goes wrong when Philip is unable to come because of an illness. Stephen comes instead and, without Maggie's knowledge, deliberately allows their boat to drift. He tries to persuade Maggie to run away and marry him, but, although tempted, she refuses on the grounds of their respective ties to Lucy and Philip. It takes Maggie five days to get back to St. Ogg's on her own, and Tom, who is now living at the mill, disowns her. Her mother goes with her to live at Bob Jakin's, and despite being befriended by Dr. Kenn, the clergyman, Maggie is rejected by society for what they call as her sexual misconduct. On the point of leaving St. Ogg's, Maggie gets a letter from Philip and a visit from Lucy to assure her of their loving forgiveness. She also receives a letter from Stephen, begging her to marry him.

Maggie does not get much time to decide one way or the other. One day the river suddenly gets flooded. Maggie gets herself into a boat and is able to rescue Tom who is alone at the mill. They achieve a full reconciliation with one another and go in search of Lucy. Their boat, however, is overwhelmed by the debris floating down the river and they sink in one another's arms. Stephen and Philip keep faithfully visiting Maggie's and Tom's graves even five years later and after many years more. Lucy and Stephen finally get married.

The Mill on the Floss: Introduction and Appreciation-Chief Features of the Novel An Early Novel: Its Publication

The Mill on the Floss is one of the most popular of the novels of George Eliot. Six thousand of its copies were sold immediately on its first publication. It was begun in

January 1859 and was completed in March 1860.y Thus it is one of her early novels, in which she has drawn heavily on her memories of early girlhood. She has re-lived her early girlhood experiences in the novel, and this makes it one of the finest studies in child psychology.

**The Setting**

The novelist actually travelled with a notebook in hand, to find a suitable setting for the novel. She had to find a suitable river for the tragedy with which the story ends, and knowing that such a catastrophic flood was impossible in Warwickshire, she transferred the scene to the county of Lincolnshire. In Lincolnshire where the River Idle joins the Trent River near the town of Gainsborough, she found the suitable locale for her flood. The site of the Dorlcote Mill and the surrounding picturesque scenery of wooded lanes and the Red Deeps are drawn from Warwickshire. Dorlcote Mill is based on her memories of Arbury Hill, close by her birth-place in Warwickshire. The old mill, the attic, the little Round Pool in her home at Griff, all have been transplanted to Lincolnshire.

**The Title**

It is significant that George Eliot called the novel The Mill on the Floss and not Maggie Tulliver. Maggie is no doubt the central human figure but the world she lives in is symbolized by the mill and the river. We are never far away from the river Floss for it controls, to a large extent, the lives and destinies of its characters. The river is with us right from the very first sentence of the novel: "A wide plain, where the broadening Floss hurries on between its green banks to the sea, and the loving tide, rushing to meet it, checks its passage with an impetuous embrace." It is on the river that Stephen teaches Maggie to row. It is on the river that Maggie commits the indiscreet act which alienates the brother and sister. It is the river which brings the estranged brother and sister together again in death. In other words, the title of the novel has been aptly choosen for the river is present throughout, both literally and symbolically The Mill on the Floss, is one of the most autobiographical of the novels of George Eliot. The novelist has put more herself in this novel, than in the other novels. It is her spiritual autobiography and the history of Maggie Tulliver is the history of Mary Evans. The identity between the two is as complete as it possibly could be.

Emotionally and spiritually, Maggie is identical with Mary Ann. Maggie, like her creator, has the intellectual potentiality for which the environment into which she is born does not provide much encouragement; she has desperate need for affection and intimate personal relations; and above all she has the need for an emotional exaltation, a religious enthusiasm, that shall transfigure the ordinariness of daily life and sweep her up in an inspired devotion of self to some ideal purpose. There is, however, a difference between

Maggie Tulliver and Mary Ann Evans. Maggie is beautiful. She is triumphantly, beautiful, after having been the ugly duckling, while Mary was plain-looking and remained so all her life. Says A.E. Baker, "It is, no doubt, the poetic freedom with which she poured himself out in Maggie that renders this character the most magnetic of all her heroines."

**The Characters**

Though attention is focused throughout on Maggie the central figure, and the action is always viewed from her point of view, the canvas of the novel is a crowded one. The domestic circle consists of Maggie's parents Mr. and Mrs. Tulliver, the owners of Dorlcote Mill and farm. There is also Tom Tulliver, her brother and playmate. Beyond the domestic circle there are the Dodsons-the Deans, the Pullets and the Gleggs-her uncles and aunts. The three aunts belong to the Dodson family, and Mrs. Tulliver is the fourth Dodson sister. These uncles and aunts are highly conservative, they symbolise the values and orthodoxy of the society of St. Ogg's. They are also the chief source of humour in the novel. Like the chorus in a Greek tragedy, they also comment on character and action and thus are conducive to a better understanding of the action of the novel. There are also Maggie's cousin Lucy, and Philip Wakem and Stephen Guest both of whom are in love with Maggie. Behind them stand a host of minor figures like Rev. Stelling, Lawyer Wakem, the gypsies, and Mrs. and Mr. Mosses. The story of Maggie has been wellintegrated with her domestic and social environment so that we get that "Organic Wholeness" for which the novel has been so much admired by Joan Benett and a number of other critics.

**Moral Vision: "Criticism of Life"**

George Eliot's vision was essentially moral, her novels are all so many pieces of 'criticism of life', and The Mill on the Floss is no exception in this respect. Two themes stand out prominently. One is that the 'meanness of environment' represses and crushes noble, aspiring souls, and the result is frustration and tragedy. The second is that any yielding to temptation results

**CHIEF FEATURES OF THE NOVEL**

In downfall, disgrace and tragedy. The two themes have been studied with reference to the life and career of Maggie Tulliver. Her tragedy is caused by the rigid, unsympathetic and conservative environment symbolised by the society of St. Ogg's, as well as by her own yielding to a momentary temptation represented by her love of Stephen Guest. She is essentially noble, virtuous and self-sacrificing, but her momentary lapse is neither forgiven nor her real nobility appreciated by St. Ogg's society. She lives in disgrace, almost as an outcast, till she meets her end while struggling heroically to save the lives of her brother Tom, and her cousin Lucy. Had her social environment been more sympathetic, or had she not yielded to temptation, she would have married Philip Wakem, and the dire tragedy would have been averted. From her example, we learn that one must not yield to

temptations that we must have self-control enough to rise above such temptations, otherwise we are bound to suffer, as Maggie does suffer. Thus the novel answers the question, "How to live ?", which is essentially a moral question.

**Psycho-analysis: Traditional Elements**

George Eliot was a modern as far as the analysis of causes and motives the springs of human action-is concerned. Herein lies her originality and her claim to greatness and permanence. She was a great psychological novelist and her portraits of the "innerman" are remarkable for their penetration and insight. This makes Maggie Tulliver one of the immortals in literature. But she was a Victorian and a traditionalist as far as her method of narration, her way of story-telling is concerned. In the novel there are frequent authorial interventions in the manner of Dickens and Thackeray and other Victorians. Instead of drawing us into an imaginary world without our being aware of it, as it were, she reminds us at the very beginning that we are reading a story which she is telling us. The narration is straightforward and chronological.

There is psychoanalysis, but that, too is done by the novelist, and the responses of the readers are constantly guided and controlled by the omnipresent author. She has not given us the 'stream consciousness' of Maggie Tulliver or of any other character, and this despite the fact that she is ranked high as a psychological novelist. Her technique of narration is entirely different from that of such modern novelists as Henry James, James Joyce and Virginia Woolf. However, it is well suited for her purpose, which was to bring out, "the tragic potential of ordinary existence."

Style

George Eliot has a much greater variety of prose than she is sometimes thought to possess. There is quite obviously a broad contrast between her narrative prose, and her dialogue. As we might expect from this most intellectual of Victorian novelists her passages of narrative analysis have a weight and gravity that can make them intellectually taxing, although the process of grappling with her intelligence can also have its own kind of exhilaration. Further the weightiness of analysis is often lightened by a humour that George Eliot is sometimes mistakenly said not to possess, as when we are told that Tom's tutor believes in his educational system 'as a Swiss hotel-keeper believes in the beauty of the scenery around him, and in the pleasure it gives to artistic visitors.' But the sharpest contrast is provided by the earthiness of George Eliot's dialogue in the mouths of her humbler characters such as Bob Jakin or, higher up the social scale, the Dodsons. Aunt Pullet's constant harping on her neighbours' physical infirmities is particularly memorable. When we hear Mr. Tulliver telling his wife that she 'mustn't put a spoke in' the wheel or that he won't be 'put off wi' spoon-meat afore I've lost my teeth' we are brought vividly into contact with characters whose language directly related to their physical environment.

**Imagery**

The novel's imagery, makes its own special effect because it occurs relatively rarely in George Eliot's work, as when we are told of Mr. Tulliver's attachment to the mill "where life seemed like a familiar smooth-handled tool that the fingers clutch with loving ease." "This simile has the force of something almost tactile; in a real sense we can feel what Mr. Tulliver's way of life meant to him. Besides such isolated examples, George Eliot is also capable of using patterns of imagery, one of the most coherent examples of which is the use of the river in The Mill on the Floss. From first page to last the novel contains constant references to river, water and flood. These appear in dialogue as well as in the narrative, sometimes in ways that help to prepare us for the novel's climax, as when Mrs. Tulliver complains "They're such children for the water, mine are.....they'll be brought in dead and drowned some day.' Indeed, this pattern of imagery is so strongly present that we may be justified in regarding it as symbolic although, as is the way with symbols, it may be possible to see more than one possible interpretation of it. George Eliot's language is a subtle and varied instrument, but its overall effect is one of intellectual weight and moral seriousness.

**Unit-4 part-1: Charles Dickens: Life and Works**

Charles John Huffam Dickens was born February 7, 1812, in Portsca (now Portsmouth), England. He was the second of eight children born to Elizabeth (Barrow) Dickens and John Dickens, a poorly paid navy pay office clerk. From the age of two to five years, Charles lived in London with his family, where his mother coached him in English and Latin. From the age of six to ten years, the family lived in Chatham, where Charles attended a school run by William Giles, the son of a Baptist minister. In 1823, the family moved to Lon- don where Charles spent much time exploring the streets which later became scenes for his novels.

As John Dickens found himself unable to meet his mounting debts (like the immortal Micawber of David Copperfield), Elizabeth Dickens attempted to supplement her husband's income by opening a private school for young children-but her efforts were unsuccessful. Charles went to work in a blacking warehouse when he was only 12 years old. Early in 1824, John Dickens was imprisoned for debt at Marshalsea (notoriously portrayed in Little Dorrit). Elizabeth Dickens and the six youngest children joined him in the debtors' prison while Charles stayed in a rooming house in London, supporting himself on his shilling-a-day earnings. Dickens described his work in this way:

It was to cover the pots of paste blacking first with a piece of white paper and then with a piece of blue paper, to tie them round with a string, and then to clip the paper close and neat all round until it looked as smart as a pot of ointment from an apothecary's shop. He did his work in front of the window and people used to stop and look at him. Dickens hated this and used to shudder with embar- rassment. To make matters worse, as in David Copperfield, the other boys were rough.

No words can express the secret agony of my soul, as I sank S into this companionship. I worked from morning till night with common men and boys, a shabby child. I know that I tried but ineffectually not to anticipate my money and make it last through the week. I know I have lunged through the streets insufficiently clad and unsatisfactorily fed. I know but for the mercy of God, I might easily have been, for any care that was taken of me, a little robber or a little vagabond.

All this left a deep impression on Dickens' mind and this was reflected in his works. Most of the important child characters in his stories had similarly unpleasant childhoods.

**A Tale of Two Cities-1**

While employed at the blacking factory, lodgings of a sort were provided for him. But for the rest, Dickens had to support himself on a very small wage of 6 shillings a week. With

no money to go anywhere and little to do, Dickens spent his leisure hours wandering around Lon- don, an experience which was to serve him well in the writing of his novels later on. In them, he described not only the imposing places in London, but also the grimy back alleys such as the home of that frightening villain in Oliver Twist, Bill Sykes. Dickens acquired a knowledge of London and London life that was second to none, but the blacker side of London life is the more prominent in his novels; the slums in Bleak House rather than the fashionable promenades of the West End.

Luckily for Dickens, his father was released from the Marshalsea after six months, after inheriting a legacy erabling him to pay off his debts. Soon after his release, Mr. Dickens quarrelled with the owner of the blacking factory and Charles was dismissed. He went back to school happily, this time to the Wellington Academy at Hampstead. One of his schoolmates said that he was a handsome, curly-headed lad, full of life and fun, and probably was connected with every mischievous prank in the school. During this time he began to write tales which he passed around among the other boys and here, too, he developed a love of amateur theatricals which remained with him all his life, for he was a born actor.

Dickens' love of amateur theatricals led him to arrange private shows for his family and friends. He longed to be a professional actor. He might have fulfilled this ambition later on in his early twenties had not a bad cold prevented him from going to an interview with the stage manager of Covent Garden. At that time, anyway, he had begun to do rather well as a reporter and gave up the idea. But when he left school, at the age of 15, he found himself as a lawyer's clerk, tending to the petty cash ledger.

Dickens' immediate andition on leaving school changed to that of becoming a reporter, as his father had done on leaving prison. With typical determination, he set out to fit himself for the post, teaching himself shorthand and studying in the evenings at the British Museum. As a result of this, Dickens obtained a job as a shorthand writer in the Courts of Doctors Commons (that is to say, the Law Courts, "Doc- tors' referring here to Doctors of Law). Here, once again, Dickens was to use his experiences later in his novels. In A Tale of Two Cities and Great Expectations, the Inns of Court are used, while in Pickwick Papers and again in A Tale of Two Cities, there are well-known trial scenes. He himself worked in Gray's Inn and it was there that he came to know the ways of lawyers and he speaks of the neighborhood of Chancery as if he knew every stone of its courts and alleys.

When Dickens was 22, he thought it would be more exciting to be a general reporter, and he obtained a job on The Morning Chronicle at a salary of 5 guineas a week. He was sent all over the country, from Edinburgh to Exeter. He thoroughly enjoyed every moment of it. As a boy, he'd often gone cold and hungry, but now he could arrive at night at a comfortable hotel, order a good meal, and relax in front of a good fire. But a reporter's life

in those days was not all fun and games, for Dickens was a conscientious worker and his work came first.

I have been in my time belated on miry byroads towards the small hours 40 or 50 miles from London in a wheelless car- riage with exhausted horses and drunken postboys, and have got back in time for publication, to be received with never-to- be-forgotten compliments by my editor.

It was Dickens' custom to draw his characters from life and place them in situations and surroundings with which he was familiar. In the same way, many of the exciting scenes that are found in the novels spring from Dickens' experiences as a newspaperman. Anyone who's read the descriptions of scenes such as the shipwreck at Yarmouth in David Copperfield will realize what a fine reporter he was. This fact did not escape his editors and before long he was being kept in reserve to be sent on important emergency assignments at a moment's notice. His reports, like his novels, had vividness, gusto and a sense of humor, so different from the rather bloodless and factual reports in so many newspapers of the day.

In 1833, Dickens published in the Monthly Magazine his first work of fiction, Dinner at Poplar Walk (later reprinted as Mr. Minns and His Cousin). The following year, Dickens published additional sketches in this journal, as well as in the Morning Chronicle and its af- filiate, the Evening Chronicle. In 1836, all of these short pieces were published together as Sketches by Boz. Dickens used the pen name of "Boz" (suggested by his brother's pronunciation of "Moses" while he had a cold). During 1836-37, under the sponsorship of the Chapman and Hall publishing firm, Dickens wrote the serial, Pickwick Papers, a humorous, episodic narrative which became widely popular.

Dickens always wrote from experience or deep knowledge of his city. He was a thorough and accurate observer. If he had but a scanty knowledge of his story, he would take great pains to obtain fuller details at first hand. For example, before writing Nicholas Nickleby, which was published in 1838, he made sure of his facts by travelling to Yorkshire, where he visited various boarding schools under the pretext of looking for a school for the son of a friend. One school he visited was the Bowes Academy, for he'd read that its headmaster had been in court for cruelty. Here he found the brutal atmosphere that is recap- tured in the descriptions of Dotheboys Hall in Nicholas Nickleby.

In April of 1836, Dickens married Catherine Hogarth, whose father was a music critic and editor of the Evening Chronicle. In the

late 1830's, Dickens established himself as a social reformer when, as editor of the monthly, Bentley's Miscellany, he published The Mud- frog Papers and Oliver Twist (1837-39). The latter work presented an incriminating picture of the workhouse and the foundling home, thereby attacking the Poor Law and the conduct of charitable institu-

tions. During this period, Dickens was working at a characteristically feverish literary pace, producing such lesser works as Sketches of Young Gentlemen (1838) and Sketches of Young Couples (1840).

In 1840, Dickens edited the weekly, Master Humphrey's Clock, for which he wrote the serials The Old Curiosity Shop (1840-41) and Barnaby Rudge (1841). Since international copyright regulations were not yet established, Dickens' works were pirated in America. Partially, perhaps out of revenge, he wrote American Notes (1842) which con- tained unfavorable comments on American manners and institutions, and the practice of slavery. Further criticisms were directed at Americans in Martin Chuzzlewit (1843-44), a comic satire.

The first of Dickens' Christmas books, A Christmas Carol, ap- peared in 1843, followed by The Chimes (1844), The Cricket on the Hearth (1845), The Battle of Life (1846), and The Haunted Man (1848).

From 1844 to 1846, the Dickens family (now grown to five) lived alternately in Italy, Switzerland, and France. Out of this itinerant period came Pictures from Italy (1844-45) and Dombey and Son (1846-48), which attacked family pride and the worship of wealth. On his return to England in 1847, Dickens organized an amateur theatrical company in which he served as manager and principal actor. In 1851, the group was joined by Wilkie Collins, a prominent playwright and novelist who became Dickens' close friend and collaborator. (David Copperfield (1849-50) reflected a semi-autobiographical account of Dickens' own rise from obscurity to fame. Departing from his earlier farcical caricatures and exaggerations, it marked an artistic ad- vance for the author. In 1850, Dickens and William Henry Wills started Household Words, a weekly journal taking a reformist political position. In it appeared A Child's History of England (1851-53), Bleak House (1852-53), which attacks the chancery courts and the slums around Chancery Lane, and Little Dorrit (1855-57), which is a satire of Victorian England.

Dickens' love of acting was one of the great passions of his life. At Christmas in 1853, Dickens gave his first public readings in Birm- ingham Town Hall, in aid of the establishment of a Birmingham and Midland Institute which would give greater educational opportunities for the working people. There was a natural choice of what to read in A Christmas Carol. Dickens wrote to the organizers:

There would be some novelty in the thing as I've never done it in public, though I have in private and, if I may say so, with a great effect on the hearers.

And it was with great effect that he read that night. It was so successful that he was asked to give a second reading three days later. This he consented to do on condition that it should be a working people's night, with cheap seats that working people could afford.

I never saw, nor do I suppose anyone ever did, such a moving sight as the working people's night. There were 2,500 of them there and a more delicately observant audience it is impossi- ble to imagine. They lost nothing, misinterpreted nothing, followed everything closely, laughed and cried with the most delightful correctness.

Dickens frequently visited Birmingham. Once he was there with some friends after a visit to Shakespeare's birthplace at Stratford, and Dr. Johnson's at Lichfield. They stopped longer than expected and ran short of ready cash. They were forced to pawn their gold watches with a Birmingham jeweller. His friends thought this hardly dignified but Dickens could afford to laugh at it. He probably remembered the times as a boy when he had been sent to the pawnshop after dark so that the neighbors would not see, but now with wealth and fame behind him, it was just a huge joke, for who cared who knew?

When he was a boy in Chatham, Dickens had dreamed of buying Gad's Hill Place near Rochester. Once again he was able to fulfill a childhood amibition, for, in 1856, he bought it and lived there most of the time from 1860 until his death..

It gave him a thrill that the house was situated on Shakespeare's Gad's Hill, mentioned in Henry IV, Part I. Dickens put up a plaque on the first floor landing:

This house, Gad's Hill Place, stands on the site of Shakespeare's Gad's Hill, ever memorable for its association with Sir John Falstaff in his noble fancy.

Gad's Hill Place was generally full of company, fun and laughter. Later on, Dickens bought the meadow behind the house which he allowed to be used for cricket and other games. A nearby cricket club was allowed to make it their own ground. He also sponsored athletic sports on the meadow for which he provided the prizes. Once again he was successful in his ventures, for one year 2,000 people turned up. Ac- tually, Dickens was not much of a sportsman himself but he was never too busy to help in a good cause.

The joy of Gad's Hill Place was marred for Dickens and his wife by growing marital unhappiness.

By 1858, a legal separation was agreed upon and his sister-in-law, Georgina Hogarth, managed Dickens' household affairs from then until his death. Concurrent with the separation, and due to a rift with the part owners of Household Words, Dickens and Wills place, All the Year Roundssolved the periodical and launched in its

To insure the magazine's success, the first issue began the weekly serial of A Tale of Two Cities, followed by other serials including The Uncommercial Traveller (1860) which was a commentary on foreign and domestic issues, and Great Expectations (1860-61), another semiautobiographical novel.)

Dickens gave public readings from 1859 to 1868 in London, Scotland, and America, which added substantially to his income. His last completed novel was Our Mutual Friend (1864-65), another social satire. This was followed by two shorter works published in America by James Thomas Fields: A Holiday Romance (1868) which was a children's story, and George Silverman's Explanation (1868) which sneered at dissenters.

Back at Gad's Hill Place in 1870, Dickens began work on a suspense tale, The Mystery of Edwin

Drood. Shortly after completing his sixth instalment, he collapsed in the dining room of his home.

He died the following morning, June 9, at the age of 58, and was buried at Westminster Abbey.

His request for a simple grave near his last home was ignored.

The characters he created have become personal friends to his many readers through the years. Dickens gave to us a warm, rich and full world, a world such as it is, full of the good and the bad, but always full of hope for the future. He was a man of the ordinary folk. It was about ordinary folk that he wrote and to them he gave the rich world of his imagination.

**Introduction to A Tale of Two Cities**

**In his preface to the novel, Dickens states:**

Whenever any reference (however slight) is made here to the condition of the French people before or during the Revolu- tion, it is truly made, on the faith of trustworthy witnesses. It has been one of my hopes to add something to the popular and picturesque means of understanding that terrible time, though no one can hope to add anything to the philosophy of Mr. Carlyle's wonderful book.

What Dickens believed was that in writing about the past, it is not the function of a novelist to simply portray history, but to recreate it.

In considering the genesis of A Tale of Two Cities, we must look to the "Mr. Carlyle" mentioned in the "Preface." This was the great Scottish social essayist and historian, Thomas Carlyle. Carlyle's book, The French Revolution, was published in 1837, and Dickens read it avidly, extracting from it the bulk of his background information for the novel. It is said that he asked Carlyle for some of the reference material alluded to in The French Revolution and that the Scotsman, with good humor, forwarded "about two cart-loads." Dickens took the matter seriously, and it is reported that he read it all. The style of

The French Revolution was strongly pictorial, and this was certainly compatible with Dickens' own vivid quality of writing. He was greatly moved by Carlyle's social philosophy, and A Tale of Two Cities can be recognized as an outgrowth of Carlyle's work, a type of dramatic ex- tension of it.

Historical Background

In the opening chapter of Book I of A Tale of Two Cities, Dickens allots about equal space to the problems of England and of France in 1775, and he implies that the two cities of London and Paris will be equally treated in the narrative. In Book II, Dickens satirizes English justice, lawyers, and courts of law, and divides the time almost evenly between France and England, but clearly it is the problems of France that fascinate him. In Book III, Dickens focusses almost entirely on the Reign of Terror in France. This is one of history's most significant periods, for from it dates Our modern era. Serious scholars, philosophers, historians, novelists, poets, readers in search of ex- citement all have found this period fascinating and have felt impelled to go backward in history to the times that produced the upheaval. The student reading A Tale of Two Cities would do well to reinforce his study of the novel with a review of eighteenth-century France and note with what discrimination Dickens selected details to achieve his pur- pose.

France entered the eighteenth century a disturbed and shaken na- tion. In the seventeenth century, Louis XIV had set in motion the social forces that were to ruin France at the same time that, as a patron of the arts, he created the atmosphere in which flourished the artists. and artisans who were to produce enduring monuments in architec- ture, sculpture, painting, and literature. When Louis XIV decided to transfer the court from Paris to Versailles, so that he might indulge his love of hunting, he had the château at Versailles expanded to include a vast and magnificent complex of structures where five thousand cour- tiers lived in an opulence that ruined the nation. Worse still, it ruined the nobles. In earlier times, the nobles had been responsible for fur- nishing troops to defend the kingdom and, in return for their service, they were exempted from taxation. Under Louis XIV the nobles no longer had this responsibility, they no longer exercised power, but they did preserve their privilege of exemption from taxation. Taxes fell on the poor.

In Paris, the bourgeoisie prospered and, in the conduct of its social life, mimicked court life at Versailles. As at Versailles, the great names in literature and art flourished, and life was lived splendidly. In the provinces, want and prosperity existed side by side. It was probably the most brilliant period in all of French literature, led by Molière, acknowledged to be the greatest name in French literature. The two leading tragic dramatists were Corneille and Racine. Students of French will know that on the roster also belong Bossuet, Pascal, La Fontaine, and Fenelon. Among the famed artists and decorators, the architects and sculptors are most noteworthy, among whom are Hardouin-Mansart, the architect of Versailles and LeNôtre, who plan- ned the

of
gardens of Versailles. The king's manner living and ruling created greatness, but it was the kind of greatness that weakened the financial and political structure and made possible, if not inevitable, a revolution. It is said that the people, made bankrupt and disconsolate by the king's policies, rejoiced when he died in 1715. He had once said, "Après moi, le deluge." The deluge came within seventy-five years.

Under Louis XV the country continued its ruinous course, characterized by intrigue and corruption within the court, ex- travagance of life at court, loss of the French colonies in the New World, destruction of the French navy, further weakening of the powers of the nobility and the clergy, bigotry, rising debts, and heavier taxation. All of these factors combined to reduce France to the status. of a second-class power politically, although her prestige remained high.

Other influences were also at work. Alone among the countries of Europe, France permitted freedom of expression. Only in France could have spread the ideas which would inflame the people to organize and to revolt. A brilliant group of intellectuals attacked bigotry and prejudice, injustice, the clergy, and the monarchy. Of this group the two greatest were Voltaire and Rousseau. Voltaire, brilliant novelist, historian, scientist, biographer, and philosopher, was the colorful master spirit of the age, attacking privilege, oppression, and injustice and pleading for education, tolerance, and liberty. In 1762, Jean-Jacques Rousseau, another genius of great range and scope, pro- claimed in his Contrat Social the sovereignty of the people and argued for freedom and equality. His most famous line, "Man is born free, but everywhere he is in irons," may express a basic fallacy, but it has a ring that caught the public's fancy. Rousseau's teachings inflamed men and women with the spirit of revolution.

A succession of finance ministers could find no way of solving the worsening financial structure of France. With the nobility and clergy still exempt from taxation, all new methods of extorting money were applied to the people. A system of letting out contracts for collection of taxes to greedy financiers, called farmers-general, brought in money but further fanned public discontent. In the midst of threatening disaster and bankruptcy, the nobles and the court pursued their pleasures. In all of Europe the French language was the language of the aristocracy. (Compare with Dickens' chapters "Monseigneur in Town," "Monseigneur in the Country," and "The Gorgon's Head.")

In 1774, Louis XVI inherited the throne and all the woes of the na- tion. A timid, honest ruler, he sincerely wanted to do away with abuses, but he had no real interest in politics. He had two interests, hunting and playing at his hobby locksmithing. (Compare with Dr. Manette's finding solace in making shoes.) At the age of sixteen he married Marie Antoinette, his much-maligned, misunderstood queen with a need for love, a passion for gaiety, and a gift for making enemies. Influenced by her mother, the Empress of Austria, to ad-.. vance the interests of Austria at the French court, she made herself suspect, and her

of
enemies used every opportunity she gave them to discredit her and turn her good qualities to her disadvantage. The king appointed an able finance minister, but trouble arose when he pro- posed reforms. Had the needed reforms been accomplished, that is, the taxing of the privileged classes, the Revolution might have been averted. Lafayette wrote in 1787 that there was "a strange contrast be- tween the king's despotic powers, the courtiers' conniving and servility and the extraordinary freedom of language and criticism." Louis XVI was an absolute but liberal monarch.

In 1788, the country as a whole seemed not to be wretched but comfortably well off. What the people wanted was for the king to preside at necessary reforms, to hold in check the privileged classes, and to tax their wealth. They were satisfied with a monarchy but they wanted the old medieval economy replaced. They wanted power transferred from the class that was no longer capable of exercising power to the now cultured and educated middle class, the Third Estate.

The king had granted people the freedom to complain. Had he supported the Third Estate against the privileged classes he could have saved France from revolution and could have saved the monarchy. France saw what had been accomplished in America. But what Lafayette, who had observed the American Revolution, and other Frenchmen could not see was the difference between the American col- onists and the French. The American colonists, through the American town meeting, had prepared for a government of and by the people, and they had conservative leaders, such as George Washington, who had been able to keep the American Revolution under control. In fact, in the long history of revolutions, the American Revolution is unique. The French people, having no understanding of a constitutional government, wanted a republic without knowing what a republic was. So, the French Revolution, once launched, became a series of frenzied riots with intervals of calm. (Compare with Dickens' "Echoing Footsteps," "The Sea Still Rises," and "Fire Rises.")

In 1789, under edict of the king, the States General met at Ver- sailles in May and there was hope. Over 900 deputies convened, altogether an assemblage of men of high moral and intellectual qualities. In June, the 500 deputies chosen to represent the Third Estate, joined by members of the lower clergy and many the nobles, proclaimed themselves the National Assembly and voted that taxation without consent was illegal. This act, usurping the power of the king, began the Revolution. The king had to decide whether to support the people or the privileged classes. He took the part of the nobles and asked his foreign troops to come to Paris and Versailles to defend him. Rumors spread through Paris that quantities of powder had been transferred to the Bastille, and on the next day, July 14, the crowd stormed the Bastille, the symbol of feudalism, killed the governor and the guards, and rioted in the streets. (Compare Dickens' "Echoing Footsteps.") This demonstration was the first of the revolutionary demonstrations, each of which left its imprint on the nation. This

of

de- fiance of the king struck a decisive blow to his prestige. In the prov- inces, fear drove the people to chaos and anarchy. Châteaux, tax of- fices and jails were set on fire in local uprisings. In August, many nobles and members of the clergy emigrated. Many others relinquished their feudal privileges and the people were heartened. The assembly proclaimed human rights in a Declaration of the Rights of Man and of the Citizen and retained the king. (Compare Dickens' "Fire Rises.")

In October, 1789, several thousand women marched on Versailles, demanding that the assembly meet in Paris and that the king live in Paris. In February, 1790, the king accepted the principles of the Revolution, but there was no governing body. Then the assembly set about to create a constitution. In July, 1790, on the anniversary of the fall of the Bastille, there was promise of order, but less than a year later the royal family tried to flee. They were captured at Varennes and were returned to the palace of the Tuileries in Paris to live as prisoners, the king by his action having forfeited all semblance of prestige. In September, the assembly completed the constitution, which the king accepted, declaring, "The goal of the Revolution has been reached." Its work completed, the assembly disbanded, but new revolutions were to come.

The new assembly, called the Legislative, was chosen, composed of conflicting factions and lacking experienced leadership. One group, more famous for its orators than for action, the Girondists, joined the king in favoring a war against Austria. The king hoped to save the monarchy by winning a victory over the Austrians. In April, 1792, war was declared against Austria, and Prussia joined Austria. In July, the enemy issued a manifesto, threatening France with destruction if the royal family were not shown respect. The Parisian mob decided that it was time to be rid of the king and, in August, they attacked the Tuileries. A revolutionary tribunal

was set up. (Compare Dickens' "Triumph.") There followed the infamous September massacres dur- ing which over 1,200 prisoners perished at the hands of the murdering rioters. (Compare Dickens' "The Grindstone.") Meanwhile, the in- vading armies were turned back. The Legislative Assembly disbanded and another group took over, the National Convention. In January, 1793, the king was tried and beheaded. In October, Marie Antoinette followed him to the guillotine.

One by one the revolutionary leaders succeeded each other and met death. Danton and Madame Roland were guillotined, and Marat was stabbed in his bathtub. One tyranny yielded to another.

By 1793, the Reign of Terror was in full swing. (Compare Dickens' "The Wood-Sawyer," "The

Game Made," "Darkness," "Fifty-two," "The Knit- ting Done," "The Footsteps Die Out Forever.") For fourteen months it went on without recess until July, 1794, when the last of the revolutionary tyrants, Robespierre, was overthrown, and the indiscriminate butcheries came to an end. Thousands had perished-men of letters, scientists, the great and the small, old men and women in their eighties, young girls in their teens, most of them victims of baseless accusations, many merely suspects, and finally the guillotiners themselves were guillotined. Paris had by this time lost its taste for guillotining as a festive occasion.

In the midst of these terrors, life in Paris went on calmly, though cautiously, for most of its 650,000 inhabitants, many of whom were well-to-do. Like the Manettes, they made no display of material wealth, but there were many theaters to attend. About 30,000 could be classed as poor. The age that created the Revolution (and the Revolution itself) has always exerted a powerful fascination upon the imagination of historians and writers. Students still read the dramas, novels, and poetry of these times. France has preserved the sites and symbols of the monarchy and the Revolution. Visitors marvel at the splendor of Ver-

sailles, the colonnade of the Louvre, the glories of its art treasures, the beauty of the Place de la Concorde, where the guillotine once stood. They shudder at the gruesome reminders of the prisoners in the Con- ciergerie, at the sight of the bell that announced the arrival of the tum- brils, now in the Women's Courtyard in the Conciergerie. They visit homes, prisons, rooms, streets, monuments, the Place de la Bastille, the faubourg Saint Antoine-all identified with people or events of the Revolution, friends and foes sharing equally in making their country's history. The men and women of these periods were educated and articulate. They have left behind not only their formal and published writings, but a great volume of letters, memoirs, and diaries. The prisons kept detailed information on each prisoner, so that a remarkable body of information exists about the thousands who died at the guillotine.

What happened to the émigrés who started to leave France in 1789 is the subject of many books. (Compare Dickens' "Drawn to the Loadstone Rock.") Many had the

foresight to transfer their wealth and valuables out of France, but more were fortunate to escape with their lives. Altogether, about 120,000 émigrés fled, about half of them members of the Third Estate, whose property excited the mob's greed. The rest were members of the aristocracy and their devoted servants, and members of the clergy. About 25,000 sought refuge in London. Many were welcomed by relatives and friends, expecting that their exile would last for a few months at the most. But many were destitute. To assist them, emergency committees were established in England and continued to function for over twenty years.

A Tale of Two Cities is the second of Charles Dickens' historical novels (the less popular one was Barnaby Rudge, published in 1841). It was begun when the author was forty-seven years old, and shortly after his separation from his wife. Dickens had been editor of Household Words until 1858. This journal was one-quarter owned by the publishers Bradbury and Evans, also the proprietors of Punch. When Punch would not carry a brief explanation of Dickens' rift with his wife, he retaliated by dissolving Household Words and launching its successor, All the Year Round. To insure the magazine's success, A Tale of Two Cities was begun with the first issue, April 30, 1859, and was continued in weekly instalments until November 26.

The novel attempts to delineate the social evils in France culminating in the conflict between the aristocracy and the laboring classes. The nobility is cynical, arrogant, and cruel. The rising peasan- try is uncouth and violent. But this is a picture of action by and be- tween individuals, and no attempt is made to explain the intellectual causes of the French Revolution--the class war for power between the reactionary feudal lords and the rising bourgeoisie as France's economy was transformed from an agricultural one to an industrial- ized one. The conclusion one might draw from Dickens' presentation

**UNIT 4(PART-2) Plot and Symbolism**

Dickens did not come to the writing of A Tale of Two Cities until 1859, although from the time of the publication of Thomas Carlyle's The French Revolution in 1837, Dickens had had an enthusiastic ad- mirationfor his friend's book. The idea of the plot came to Dickens when he was playing in the melodrama The Frozen Deep, by WilkieCollins, about a girl loved by two men, one of whom (this was the part Dickens played) sacrificed his life that the other man might live and marry the girl, who had shown a preference for the other man. After considering such titles as One of These Days and Buried Alive for his new novel, Dickens wrote to his friend-and later his biographer- John Forster, that he had found exactly the title he wanted, A Tale of Two Cities, and from that time on he wrote fast and was able to launch his new magazine, All the Year Round, in April, 1859, with the first in- stalment.

of

According to Forster, Dickens' first plan of the novel, as he had recorded it in his book of memoranda, was derived from his enjoyment of French drama. It was to be a story divided into two periods with a lapse of time between. Earle Davis explains how A Tale of Two Cities follows this plan. The comparatively short first book is similar to the prologue of the type of tragedy Dickens had in mind, and the second and third books, dealing with the main story, are comparable to the two long acts of French drama and are "balanced in length and action.

In the prologue of the first book, set in 1775, Dickens outlines the general conditions of unrest in England and France, predicts the out- come, establishes the atmosphere of discontent and mystery, in- troduces some of the main characters, suggests the main themes and symbols, and gives enough of the antecedent action to arouse the curiosity of the reader. In the first part of the second book, in 1780, Dickens brings in the remaining principal characters, starts the storyline, begins to enmesh the characters in personal and political complications, some of them obviously relating to the plot, some mystifying, and others so obscure that the reader is unaware of their importance at the time. Book II may seem dull in parts, but a rereading of the novel discloses how carefully Dickens created complications and laid the ground work for the violence and the crises that will erupt in the last book. The end of Book II skips to the year 1789, the storming of the Bastille, and gives a brief glimpse of the uprisings throughout France, and then skips again to 1792 in order to effect a transition to Book III.

Book III begins in 1792 and ends in December, 1793. The novel begins slowly, crammed with essential details, moves into the second book deliberately, picking up complications and momentum toward the end and, in the third book, rolls relentlessly from tragedy to

tragedy, from violence to violence, and to a stunning climax. All of the unexplained relationships and complications are resolved, the mysteries and secrets are cleared up, punishments and rewards are meted out, and the curtain falls on a novel whose theatricality was deliberately and carefully contrived.

The French Revolution, by Carlyle, was the main source of Dickens' information for his novel with two settings, London and Paris. Adopting Carlyle's philosophy of history-for Dickens was neither scholar nor historian-Dickens created A Tale of Two Cities with its tightly structured plot, developed through a series of amazingly detailed and vivid pictures. For over a hundred years the scenes of this novel have so impressed

themselves on the minds of its readers that for many this is the French Revolution: its causes rooted in generations of oppression and injustice; its course characterized by bloodshed, violence, vengeance, and death; and its outcome anticipating a regeneration, arising from the expiation of the evils of these times, the rebirth of a great nation, and the ushering in of the modern .

Dickens once said that he had read Carlyle's history five hundred times. It is therefore natural that he came to see the Revolution as Carlyle saw it, a great human tragedy, for Dickens' own world was a world of people to whose sufferings he was always sensitive. Hence, his French Revolution was a tragedy of human beings, oppressors and op- pressed alike, controlled by the events of history. Certainly, in detail after detail, Dickens acknowledged his debt to the historian. The at- tack on the Bastille, the murder of Foulon, the underground move- mentof the Jacobin Society, which Dickens calls the Jacquerie, the trials before the Revolutionary tribunals, the tumbrils, the guillotine, the slum section of Saint Antoine, the knitting women, even the find- ingof a letter in the archives of the Bastille-all are interpreted by Dickens as Carlyle saw them. From a book published in Amsterdam, Mercier's Tableaux de Paris, Dickens borrowed an atrocity or two.

It is also interesting that the idea of Dr. Manette'sturning to making shoes as an escape from his mental torment may have come from a oesas hobby pursued by Louis XVI. The king worked at locksmithingto escape from the rigors of ruling. The final vision of Sydney Carton was inspired by Carlyle's account of the request of Madame Roland, who asked as she was about to ascend the steps to the guillotine that she be permitted to write down her thoughts. Nor should it be forgotten that Dickens had accumulated much information in France in the course of his extended sojourns there in the 1840's. Many people who had lived through the Revolution were still alive. Memoriesof the Revolution were fresh in the minds of children and grandchildren of those who had lived through the period and life in Paris and in the provinces had changed little from its customary course in the late eighteenth century.

Railroads had not come into being; Dickens himself travelled in the saine way as Mr. Lorry and the Manettesdid.

Dickens says at the end of the novel's opening chapter: "Thus did the year one thousand seven hundred and seventy-five conduct their Greatnesses, and myriads of small creatures-the creatures of this chronicle among the rest-along the roads that lay

before them." Dickens leaves no doubt that he intends to show that the lives of all of the people of his story are connected and controlled by fate, that the destinies of the great will merge with the destinies of the small, and that people remote from one another in place and in position will follow roads that will converge in Paris in the year 1793.

Dualism, always a significant characteristic of Dickens' craft, is clearly proclaimed in the title A Tale of Two Cities. How to balance and connect the two cities is a problem Dickens solved by a number of devices-symbols, characters, fate, and plot structure. The first and most obvious symbol is the symbol of the road, the London-Calais road and the Calais-Paris road. In addition to the road, which is to be taken both literally and symbolically, he introduces other symbols and connects the two cities through his characters whose lives influence each other in a series of fateful coincidences of circumstances and events. He fuses all of these elements into a harmonious whole to develop his themes of wrong, expiation and regeneration, of hatred and revenge, and of love and sacrifice.

When the narrative begins in Chapter 2, three people, Mr. Lorry, Miss Pross, and Lucie Manette, and a fourth, later to be presumed to be Charles Darnay, travel the Dover road on their way from London towards Paris in November, 1775. A few days later, all return by the same road, accompanied by another principal character, Dr. Manette. Without their knowing it or willing it, this trip changes the course of life of every person in the story. Throughout the novel, the road be- tween London and Paris connects the creatures of the story by travel and by communication. The dangers of the Dover road and the mists along the way foreshadow the dangers and the mists that will engulf the characters on the road of life. Finally, this road provides the escape route the same characters will take out of the dangers of Paris to the safety of London in December, 1793.

**Plotand Fate**

Dickens uses fate to create a number of character links between the two cities. Most significant in the fate of the main characters is the physical resemblance between the French-speaking Englishman, Sydney Carton, and the English-speaking Frenchman, Charles Dar- nay. This resemblance enables Carton to twice save the life of Darnay,

first in a London courtroom and second in a Paris prison. Both love the same girl, born in Paris of a French father and an English mother, and living in London.

must shall beograds

It was Mr. Lorry's fate that he should spend his early years in Tellson'sParis bank, where he conducted the affairs of the Manettes, that he should be assigned to take Lucie to London when she was only two years old, and that he should re-enter her life when charged with taking her to Paris to rescue her father. Because of his early experience in Paris, Mr. Lorry is given the heavy responsibility of directing Tellson'sin Paris during the Reign of Terror, and this assignment is a coin- cidencethat enables him to help the Manettesin Paris and finally to escape. In London, Tellson'sbecomes the meeting place of the French émigrés and the center of information about events in Paris. Even Jerry Cruncher, Mr. Lorry's odd-job man at Tellson'sboth in London and in Paris, becomes a connecting link when, in Paris, he furnishes in- criminating evidence against John Barsadwhich he had collected in London.

In the last scene, fate brings together an improbable pair, the brilliant English lawyer and the illiterate French seamstress. Dr. Manette is, of course, the basic link tying together the characters, the cities, and the theme. It was his fate as a doctor in Paris to incur the hostility of the powerful St. Evrémondebrothers, to be imprisoned by them through a lettrede cachet, and to be released eighteen years later in the care of his daughter, Lucie. In London, his daughter is fated to fall in love with, and to marry, the son of an Evrémondewho will one day be sentenced to pay for the wrong done to his father-in-law. Events return them all to Paris, where the doctor tries to use his influence as a former Bastille prisoner to save his son-in-law. Dr. Manette, therefore, is a link among the characters and a link between the oppressions of the past and the vegeance of the Revolution. In his suffering, his living death, and his restoration to life, Dr. Manetteis an echo of Dickens' thematic interpretation of the Revolution.

**Blood Imagey**

Besides the pervading symbol of the road, the first scene in Paris introduces the symbol of blood when Gaspard, dipping his fingers in the muddied wine in the Saint Antoine Street, scrawls "BLOOD" on the wall of a shop. Much blood is to be spilled between the time when the red wine stains the ground and the blood of the victims of the Revolution stains the ground at the site of the guillotine. The red of the blood is

transferred with ominous connotations to other situations, to the red sunset over the château of the Evrémondes, to the fire consum- ing the château, to the red caps worn by the citizen patriots, to the gory heads on pikes and to the tumbrils carrying the day's wine to the guillotine. The way in which Dickens continued to widen and extend the connotation of blood and red illustrates the way symbols are used in literature. A symbol does not have one meaning. It continually ex- tends its meanings, picks up additional meanings, and often takes on opposing meanings, all the time enriching and giving depth to the con-

.

As an example consider the scene in which the sunset illuminates the travelling carriage of the Marquis as he nears home. Literally, it means the end of a day. Symbolically, it recalls the shedding of the run-over child's blood. It suffuses the face of the Marquis with a red color; his blood is to be spilled that night. The sun is setting on the life of the Marquis. Later, his château will be set afire, reddening the sky. It signals the literal destruction of the château and of all the family. It symbolizes similar uprisings and similar destruction throughout France. At first, red evokes sympathy for the oppressed people of France. Later, it evokes sympathy for the victims of the Revolution. Every time the symbol of red, of fire, and of blood recurs in the novel, the symbol extends its meaning, both literally and connotatively, and it contributes unity to all of the situations in which it is used.

**footsteps**

Early in Book II, Dickens brings in the echoing footsteps at the corner of SohoSquare as a symbol to link the quiet life there with the mad and dangerous footsteps that will surround the Manettesin Paris. Both sets of footsteps are outside the Manettehousehold. The Man- ettescan neither control nor escape them. Darnayis responsible for bringing the footsteps of Paris into the lives of his family; yet he acts not of his own volition, for he is lured to the "Loadstone Rock." The consequences are events which draw him and his family involuntarily to Paris. Only Sydney Carton accepts the footsteps and the conse- quencesvoluntarily.

**Love and hate**

Home and prison are used by Dickens to symbolize love and hate. But Dickens saw that a clear separation of the two would be an over- simplification. Hence, he shows

love penetrating into the prison and hate penetrating into the home. Dr. Manetteis an illustration of the hate in men's souls that can send to prison an innocent man. Dr. Manette, after ten years of isolation, becomes contaminated by hate in the atmosphere of the physical prison and in the emotional and psychological prison of his own spirit. In that hate he composes a document that will almost wreck the lives of those he loves best. His daughter's love restores him, but not completely.

The loving atmosphere of the Manettehousehold spiritually nourishes everyone who is welcomed there-the doctor, Lucie, Mr. Lorry, Miss Pross, Charles Darnay, and Sydney Carton. The same love is transported to Paris. But into that home, hate penetrates in the person of Madame Defarge, and in that home takes place the love-hate struggle between Madame Defargeand Miss Pross, symbolizing the triumph of love over hate. Madame Defarge, untouched by love, can-

not escape from her personal prison of hate. The prisons of Paris are cells of hate into which love penetrates. When he is transferred to the Conciergerie, Sydney Carton gains entrance to his cell, motivated by the greatest love of which man is capable. During the fifteen months arlesis in prison, Dr. Manetteseeks to have him freed, meanwhile leading a busy life, ministering out of love for suffering humanity to the ills of both the prisoners and their oppressors. Dickens' personal experiences with prisons had been of a dual nature. He had seen debt- orshelping each other in Marshalseaprison and he had observed criminality of the lowest order in the many prisons he had visited. Dickens seemed to have an obsessive interest in prisons, for wherever he travelled, in the United States, France, Italy and in his own country, he made it a practice to visit prisons. Dickens uses prisons in a sym- bolicway to represent the miseries that human beings are subject to. -oiggr

**water**

Another symbol that became almost obsessive with Dickens was the river as a symbol of life. The symbol does not remain constant; it might be a river, or it might be a fountain, an eddy, a wave, or the sea. It might cleanse, or it might poison; it could save, or it could kill. Dickens states in Chapter 7 of the second book, after the killing of the child by the carriage of the Marquis: "The water of the fountain ran, the swift river ran, the day ran into evening, so much life in the city ran into death according to rule . . . all things ran their course." This passage suggests an elaborate extension of the symbol

throughout the novel. In the village of the Marquis, the fountain was the center of life. The night that death came to the Marquis, "the fountain in the village flowed unseen and unheard, and the fountain at the château dropped unseen and unheard, both melting away, like the minutes that were falling from the spring of Time," and when day dawned, "the water of the château fountain seemed to run to blood..."

When Gaspard is hanged for killing the Marquis, his body is suspended over the fountain to deny the villagers the life-giving waters of the fountain. Dickens likens the mob storming the Bastille to a "sea of black and threatening waters, "the remorseless sea." The upris- ingsoccurring in the provinces are described in a chapter entitled, "The Sea Still Rises." After Sydney has determined upon his course, he walks along the Seine, ". . . watching the eddy that turned and turned purposelessly, until the stream absorbed it, and carried it on to the sea-'Like me!'" In the chapter entitled "Fifty-two" Dickens equates time and the flowing waters. The fifty-two victims, compared to the weeks of the year, are "to roll that afternoon on the life- tide of the city to the boundless everlasting sea." Dickens says as Sydney is guillotined, "The murmuring of many voices, the upturning of many faces, the pressing on of many footsteps in the outskirts of the crowd, so that it swells forward in a mass, like one great heave of water, all flashes away." **Pictures**

When Dickens decided that the overall structure of the novel would follow the structure of French drama, he also decided to develop the plot as a series of pictures. He said in a letter: "But I set myself the little task of making a picturesque story, rising in every chapter, with characters true to nature, but whom the story should ex- press more than they should express themselves by dialogue." Most of the chapters are self-contained pictures. Each picture has its center of interest, all details contributing to that focus and creating a single mood or atmosphere appropriate to the central theme, the overall pur- pose being to evoke a specific emotional response in the reader. In some chapters there is a break, with two contrasting or balancing pic- tures. Some chapters are vast canvases of humanity gone mad; some are small tableaux of human beings, gentle and loving. Always, Dickens makes the reader see, hear, and feel.

In these pictures, Dickens makes the reader see not an anonymous crowd, but identifiable in- dividualshaving a definite relation to the theme of the picture and to the theme of the novel. In the wine-cask scene there is pathos in the people's attempts at gaiety and celebration in the midst of grinding poverty. This scene is reenacted years

later, the gaiety magnified to frightening dimensions in the picture of Carmagnole. Horror-struck, the reader sees five hundred demons dancing in wild abandon, hears their shouts, feels the savage rhythm of La Marseillaise-all in celebra- tionof the last batch of victims of the guillotine. In the time between these two scenes are the spectacles of the storming and burning of the Bastille, the burning of the château seen from the perspective of the gratified villagers, and the awful people at their awful work at the grindstone. Each chapter in the novel makes its particular contribution to the picturing of the plot and the characters being manipulated by the plot.

The instrument which dominates Book III is pictured for the first time in the final scene. High on a platform, its uprights and blade. outlined against the sky, the guillotine awaits fifty-two victims. The tumbrils line up to discharge their cargo and the rows of chairs are filled with knitting women (only one is empty). Dickens halts the ac- tionto let the reader see into the mind of Sydney Carton. "I am the Resurrection and the Life . . . he that believeth in me shall never die." The reader sees a man expiating his wasted life and coming to a spiritual rebirth. In Carton's vision of the future, Dickens identifies Carton with the theme of his tale, a nation expiating the evils of generations and coming slowly to regeneration and rebirth. A brilliant novel, A Tale of Two Cities rises steadily in power and drama and ends on a note of exaltation.

Theme

From the beginning of the narrative with Mr. Lorry's message "Recalled to Life," to the end with Sydney Carton's "I am the Resur- rectionand the Life ..." Dickens repeatedly insists on the theme of regeneration. In his own time, in his own country, and in his travels, Dickens observed oppresion. He saw class pitted against class, human- itycrushed by humanity. He saw the need for the individual crusader and reformer. For him, the hope for the future came to mean regeneration, individual regeneration making possible the regeneration of society. In the final chapter of A Tale of Two Cities, Dickens says:

Crush humanity out of shape once more, under similar hammers, and it will twist itself into the same tortured forms. Sow the same seed of rapacious license and oppression over again, and it will surely yield the same fruit according to its kind.

Six tumbrils roll along the streets. Change these back again to what they were, powerful enchanter, Time, and they shall be seen to be the carriages of absolute

monarchs, equipages of feudal nobles, the toilettes of flaming Jezebels, the churches that are not my father's house but dens of thieves, the huts of millions of starving peasants! No; the great magician who majestically works out the appointed order of the Creator never reverses his transformation.

This passage is not an interruption of the narrative taking Carton to the guillotine but an integral part of Dickens' theme: the only remedy for moral and social disorder is moral regeneration of the in- dividual. Justice and right are the proper concern of the individual. Sydney Carton's courage and sacrifice are not an isolated dramatic in- stance of sacrifice but a symbol of individual courage and sacrifice throughout history. Society depends upon the individual. The individual who has the moral courage-and if need be, the physical courage to break the fetters of his self-prison is the hope of the world. That is what A Tale of Two Cities is all about; this is what makes it not just a tale of two cities during the French Revolution, but a tale of all places and all times. This is what makes the French Revolu- tiona revolution of people everywhere breaking the bonds of oppres- sionand of all that imprisons the human spirit. The theme of regenera- tionof the individual gives the book as much pertinence today as it had in Dickens' time, perhaps more. It is Dickens' answer to the question "Am I my brother's keeper?"

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In terms of the plot, this theme of regeneration is embodied as a series of rescues; the rescue being the most physical and dramatic method of saving a man. There is no necessary connection between these two, since a man can rescue or be rescued and still be spiritually unredeemed. But Dickens makes the connection plausible and even essential in this novel. If a man is not worth loving, one infers, who would take the trouble to rescue him?

Dickens takes pains to draw a hierarchy of values between the minimal rescue and the rescue involving a total self-sacrifice. On the lowest level, there is Sydney Carton's rescue of Charles Darnayduring his English trial. Carton himself refers to this as merely a piece of legal claptrap. It requires no self-sacrifice and no affection for the person rescued. But, at the highest level, there is Carton's final rescue of Dar- nay and his family. This requires a complete self-sacrifice that comes from a total affection.

Between these two extremes we find other rescues that fill in the spectrum. There is Mr. Lorry's trip to Paris in Book I, where he delivers Dr. Manettefrom his French garret. Although this is under- taken as business for Tellson's, it rises above Carton's legal rescue because Mr. Lorry shows a personal concern for Dr. Manetteand Lucie. Then, there is Charles Darnay'strip to France to save Gabelle, who is released from jail only because Darnayhas been imprisoned. This rescue is based on family honor, but it is clouded by well-meaning vanity and an ignorance of the consequences on Darnay'spart. Fin- ally, there are Dr. Manette's two rescues of Darnay, the first from mob slaughter and the second at his trial (which proves ineffective). Manetteworks tirelessly for a year and three months in his effort to save Darnay, and he does it to repay his daughter.

It is a heroic at- tempt, but it lacks the transcendent quality of Carton's final rescue. There are other means of saving people than rescuing them from death, and Dickens deals with these as well. Dr. Manetteis saved from insanity and poor health through his daughter's care and affection. Mr. Lorry is saved from a sterile business life through his friendship with the Manettes. Miss Prossis saved from her natural isolation through her devotion to Lucie. Sydney Carton is saved from his reckless, wasted life because of his love for Lucie. At the lowest level of the reborn there is Jerry Cruncher, whose salvation consists of repent- inghis wrongdoing, vowing not to return to it, and harboring an unselfish wish that the Darnaysmay escape from France. But affection as an agent of rebirth is a mutual thing, and these people are. in a sense, both the rescued and the rescuers.

In interweaving the rescued and the rescuers, Dickens shows how much people need each other to survive. Dickens' good characters are mutually dependent. In a world with so much evil they have to be. What would Dr. Manettehave if his son-in-law were executed and his daughter died of grief? What would Mr. Lorry or Miss Prosshave if their friends were wiped out? What would Sydney Carton have if Lucie and her family died when he could have saved them?

At the center of this pattern is Lucie, the most vulnerable person in the novel. Her life explicitly depends on the lives of her loved ones. Unable to rescue anyone directly, her power derives from her concern and love for others, which in turn gives courage to them. She is the passive, radiating center about whom the other redeemed people orbit.

All of this redemption takes place against a background of dam- nation that grows more intense as the novel progresses. The ac- celeratingaction calls forth more extreme

efforts at salvation. There are many characters who are wholly damned. These are types who are completely selfinvolved, like Stryverand the French aristocrats, or who do mischief for self-advancement, like Barsadand Cly, or who take delight in exterminating those who differ with them, like the mobs or Madame Defargeand her associates. These people have forgotten the original purpose of the Revolution: they enjoy the spectacle of murder for its own sake. This is the ultimate degradation of humanity in Dickens' view, a degradation that needs a heroic self-sacrifice to redeem what is worth saving.

**UNIT4 (PART-3) 7.**

**BACKGROUND LESSON - *TESS***

*Contents:*

1. Objective

2. Agrarian setting

3. Hardy's life and philosophy
4.Plot

5. Let Us Sum Up

of

6. Sample Questions 7.Suggested Reading

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**1.Objective:**

- to study the sturdy rich yet fateful Agrarian background (in the form of Fate) of Hardy's narrative world.

**2.Agrarian Setting :**

-the world of Wessex- its rusticity-its compulsions set in perspective Hardy's tragic tales.

**3.Hardy's Life and Philosophy :**

-Hardy, born at Dorset, in SouthrenWessex renders the idea of human grandeur and sublimity though made imperfect by the viscititudes of Nature. .

**4. Plot:**

of

- 'Tess' is the story of remorseless stifling of a human soul.

As any literary text is influenced by moment, milieu and race, according to Taine, let us know the social, political economic and cultural reasons of the Victorian mind. Victorian mind is an expression of the immense complexities and richness and driversity of the times. Scientific temper on the one hand and religious scepticism and economic wealth, follwed by the glorious rise of the example, along with disturbing poverty - all portray a complex, sometimes conflicting image of the Victorian mind.

idea of progress, in material and abstract realms. The success of the industrial revolution created a desire for unlimited progress, in all material walks of life. With the glory of the Queen and the benevolence of the empire in the form of " whiteman's burden" solemnising the colonialization, and with the unquestioned acceptance of the existing social order, even with the growth of wealth and possibilities of a new class order and unshakable faith in religion, there appeared a world of per..... of the existing system. If there were doubts anywhere, they needed to compromise with the existing order.

However, with the growth of wealth and the rise of a new merchant class, due to the prosperity generated by the industrial revolution, the age old supremacy of the aristocracy and gentry were unsettled, to lose their earlier prestige. Victorian traditions and conventions were subjected to greater pressures. With the lower classes also acquiring increasing politic rights, the ground for the emotional and cultural emancipation started, leading to the crisis in the 20th century.

Along with the spirit of all round liberation, women's freedom acquired greater importance, when they were given political rights. The scientific advancement with emphasis on reason, rather than on faith, encouraged the spirit of enquiry. Darwin's theory of Organic Evolution inspired a new way of thinking of human destiny and man's place in the cosmos, leading to questioning the value of the Biblical faith.The ideas of the philosophers like Hauxley, Spencer, Mill, among others, led to revalution of the questions of faith, man and society. With the begining of the questioning of the religious faith, pessimism as a way of describing man's position in the cosmos became a dominant phenomenon. In religion, there were religious conflicts between the Anglicans and the Evangelists. In the economic life, due to the rise of industrialization, there was a great impact on the agrarian life.

As Hardy's five novels centrally represent a common pattern, he presents his conception of life through the setting of the country life. His protagonists are strong-natured countrymen, disciplined by the necessities of agricultural life. He brings into relation with them men and women from outside the rural world, better educated, superior in status, yet inferior in human worth. As the story unfolds slowly in each novel, it is a clash between agricultural and urban modes of life. All the narrative action and human relations are born out of this conflict, as Hardy dramatizes his dismay, as its predicament of the agricultured community in the south of England

during the last part of XIX century. It records a profound activity of memory, of the writer's dependable past. For his novels record the agricultural tragedy of 1870-1902.

His narrative art takes both its material and utility from the agricultural, rather than the philosophical context. His presentations of scene are most effective when revealing the counti tract, aloof in space and time, outside the gates of the world'. He stylizes the rural speech and sentiment. 'He gives body to his respect for the country community, as he knows the the manners and techniques of the labouring vacations. The dangerous consequences of Free Trade fill the substance of his fiction, as twenty five years of rural collapse and dismay are also the years of composition of his tragic fiction...

At this time, Jeremy Bentham's theory of utilitarianism, with the theory of LAISSEZ-FAIRE, a new economic system was started. As a result of this theory, there was a merciless exploitation of the workers. Writers like Dickens, Mathew Arnold and Ruskin reprehended this new life without culture and civilization. Thus, the rich diversities and conflicts of the victorian mind led to the generation of new wealth, new class structure, agnostic tendencies in religion. .

**3. HARDY AS A NOVELIST OF THE VICTORIAN TIMES :**

**THOMAS HARDY'S LIFE**

Born of old Dorset stock as higher Bockhampton on 2 June, 1840, his father was a master mason. Thomas Hardy's marriage to the daughter of an Archdeacon, often a residence in London, created that divided loyalties in him between the rural and urban life, whose anxieties become his artistic creations. He inherited his father's love of music. His walks in his school days made him realise his first and last from a profound submission to the diurnal visible microcosm of Wessex, according to Blunden. Before he became a friend of Horace Moule, a classical scholar, Hardy taught himself Greek and read the Iliad and greek tragedy. In his young age, he also read Shakespeare, Scott and Bunyan. During his training at Dorchester, he became intimately acquainted with the country- life of Dorchester, which he immortalized in The Return of the Native, and Far from the Madding Crowd, besides other novels.

After his architectural training in London with sticks, he devoted his life in writing the fiction.

Under the GeenwoodTree, was written to exhibit his deep knowledge of rustic lit and speech. The publication of Far From the Madding Crowd established him as a novelist of great reputation. His other novels include The Return of the Native, Tess of D'Urbervilles Jude the Obscure, Mayor of Casterbridge and The Woodlanders. His novels may be classified as: 1) Novels of Character and Environment: Under the Greenwood Tree, Tess and Jude the obscure, among other movels;2) Romances and Fantasies: A Pair of Blue Eyes, Two on a Tower; Novels of ingenuity and Experiment: The Land of Ehtlberta; DesparateRemedies.

**Hardy's Wessex Novels :**

Hardy calls the land of West Saxons as Wessex, consisting of Dorset, Wiltshine, Hampshine and Somerset. It is one district of England. This land is rich with relics from the past of the altars of the Britons. It has valleys, alternating with uplands with deep woods and luxuriant vegetation. He presented the towns, villages, rivers, hills and valleys of Wessex, with a thinly disguised names. Thus,

his casterbridge is Dorchester, his Budmonth is weymonth. He knows every legend and every relic of antiquity. He also revives the historical continuity of this place of the Saxons, Romans and Celts and the Danes and Normans. A Roman feeling pervades the country side. Wessex is associated with many saints, as many ancient Norman families like the D' Urbervilles and Raridelles, once feudal lords. have degenerated into labourers in Wessex. As Hardy always keeps spirit of Wessex alive before our mind, according to Lord David Cecil, there was plenty of tragedy in the lives of the Wessexlabourers with its poverty and passion for life. With his tender heavy heart, Hardy could evoke the deep tragic feelings in their lives.

**Hardy's Philosophy of Life**:

Hardy believes that life is conditioned by what we do, without surrendering to false notions of life. For him, there is endless human grandeur combined with its destruction by Fate. Even if there is the fatal destruction of human greatness by Nature, the profundity and sublimity of human perfectability is the corner stone of his lotty poetic imagination in his craftsmanship. He tells us that men and women must strive to achieve perfection and grandeur. He tells us in Tess that our aim is to do good cheerfully, unconcerned about evil and virtue in human nature. He has the religion of loving with kindness and purity.

**Hardy's conception of Fate:**

Even while being destroyed by the cruelty of Fate, his men and women show a stoical endurance to live. According to Edmund Gosse, Hardy's men "abandoned by God treated with scorn by Nature, man lies helplessly as the mercy of those purblind Doomsters' accident, chance and time, from which he has to endure injury and insult from the cradle to the grave'. He describes human situations in his novels as a conflict between the omnipotent and the hapless human life. In his novels chance operates as the tragic fate. However, through the trampling of human perfection by fate, Hardy postulates that the future generations will live in scepticism and resignation..

**Hardy's pessimism :**

Hardy's novels present a gloomy view of life. This faith in determinism makes him a pessimist who sees no glory in life, with no possibility for happiness and perfection and man struggling against and unsympthetic nature. This personal gloomy temparament may also be responsible for the strain of pessimism in his art. His

historical contemplation of Wessex and its people is also responsible for this. gloomy veiw. The insignificance of man and the brief nature of his life are always present in his mind. This pessimistic view finds significant expression in Tess. For him," life and its surroundings are tragical rather than comical as moments of gaiety are interludes and no part of the actual drama". He believes that harshness and cruelty is the very essence of life. He shows similarity with Schopenhauer's philosophical pessimism, according to which, harshness of life is grater than the harshness of man's conduct.

**Hardy's views on Religion :**

As Hardy is sceptic by conviction, he seems to believe in the existence of a force called will, more often merely Life which is utterly indifferent to the feelings of man. He does not have sympathy with traditional Chirstianity, as his rationalistic mind does not tolerate mysticism. As for him, Nature is greater than theology, he does my have any belief in the responsibility of any god for the failure in this world. He tells us that in the tragic portrayal of Tess justice was done, and the President of the immortals in Aeschylean phrase, had ended his sports with Tess".

**Hardy's views on Nature :**

To Hardy's the earth and its eternal expression, Nature are the permanent background against which man lives his brief life of pleasure and pain. As agriculture has charm for him, he has deep reverence towards the earth and man's work upon it. He is a worshipper of Nature with his reverential attitude towards nature he is pagan with his faith rooted in the ancient past. As he renders the spirit of nature, as for him Nature is a force, he is master of interpreting the external world, He has a cosmic conception of Nature, of its stars and night. He ekes his men and women, against this vast canvas. Hardy's Characterization :

As Hardy's chief aim is truth to describe the human condition in a cruel world of his imagination, there is an architectural quality in his designs. His men women are endowed with a pagan severity, grand in suffering simple and resolute. As he takes his chief characters of powerful nature, they are surrounded by men and women of lesser strength. His women are as distinguished as his men. Eustacia, Lucetta, Bathsheba and Arabella are contrasted with Tess, Grace and Elizabeth Jane. His men like Gabriel Oak, Henchard, Giles Winterborne and Sergeant Troy - all possess wide knowledge of the world, show the disadvantages among the country folk. There are hardly any villains in Hardy's Wessex with deliberate malice or wickedness. There are egoists of various types. Hardy also presents various types of clergy-men, who may not draw our sympathy.

**Plot:**

of

The Story: It was a proud day when Jack Durbey-field learned that he was descended from the famous D'Urberville family, Durbey-field had never done more work than was necessary to keep his family supplied with meagre food and himself with beer, but from that day on he ceased doing even that *small* amount of work. His wife joined him in thinking that such a high family should live better with less *effort*, and she persuaded their oldest daughter, Tess, to visit the Stocke-d' Urbervilles, a wealthy family who had assumed the D'Urbervilles and perhaps a good marriage with one of the sons.

When Tess met her supposed relatives, however, she found only a blind mother and a dapper *son* who made Tess uncomfortable by his improper reamarks to her. The son, Alec, tricked the innocent young
Tess into working as a poultry maid, not letting her know that his mother was unware of

Tess's indentity. After a short time Tess decided to look for work numerous brothers and sisters. She was innocent, but she knew that Alec meant her no good. Alec, more clever than she, at last managed to get her alone and then possessed her.

When Tess returned to her home and told her mother of her terrible experience, her mother's only worry was that Alec was not going to marry Tess. The poor girl worked in the fields, facing the slander of her associates bravely. Her trouble was made worse by the fact that Alec followed her from place to place, trying to possess her again. By going about to different farms during the harvest season, Tess managed to elude Alec long enough to give birth to her baby without his knowledge. The baby did not live long, however, and a few months after its death, Tess went to a dairy farm far to the south to be dairymaid.

At the dairy farm Tess was liked and well treated. Also at the farm was Angel Clare, a pastor's son who had rejected the ministry to study farming. It was his wish to own a farm some day, and he was working on different kinds of farms, so that he could learn something of the many kinds of work required of a general farmer. Although all the dairymaids were attracted to Angel, Tess interested him the most. He thought her a beautiful and innocent young maiden, as she was, for it was her innocence which had caused her trouble with Alec.

Tess felt that she was wicked, however, and rejected the attentions Angel paid to her. She urged him to turn to one of the other girls for companionship. It was unthinkable that the son of a minister would marry dairymaid, but Angel did not care much about family tradition. In spite of her pleas, he continued to pay court to Tess. At last, against the wishes of his parents, Angel asked Tess to be his wife. Not only did love her, but also he realized that a farm girl would be a help to him on his own land. Although Tess was in love with Angel by this time, the memory of her night with Alec caused her to refuse Angel again and again. At last his insistence, coupled with the written pleas of her parents to marry someone who could help the family financially, won her over, and she agreed to marry him.

On the night before the wedding, which Tess had postponed many times because she felt unworthy, she wrote Angel a letter, telling everything about herself and Alec. She slipped the letter under his door, sure that when he read it he would renounce her forever. But in the morning Angel acted as tenderly as before and Tess loved him *more* than ever for his forgiving nature. When she realized that Angel had not found the letter, she attempted to tell him about her past. Angel only tested her about wanting to confess, thinking that such a pure girl could have no black sins in her history. They were married without Angel's learning about Alec and her dead baby.

On their wedding night Angel told Tess about an evening of debauchery in his own past. Tess forgave him and then told about her affair with Alec, thinking that he would forgive her as she had him. But such was not the case. Angel was at first stunned, and then so hurt that he could not even speak to Tess. Finally he told her that she was not the woman he loved, the one he had married, but a stranger with whom he could not alive, at least for the present. He took her to her home and left her there. Then he went to his home and on to Brazil, where he planned to buy a farm. At first neither Tess nor Angel told their parents the reason for their separation. When Tess finally told her mother, that ignorant woman blamed Tess for losing her husband by confessing something he need never have known.

Angel had left Tess some money and some jewels which had been given to him by his godmother. The jewels Tess put in a bank; the money. she spent on her parents. When it was gone, her family went hungry once more, for her father still thought himself too high-born to work for a living. Tess again went from farm to farm, doing hard labor in the fields in order to get enough food to keep herself and her family alive.

While she was working in the fields, she met Alec again. He had met Angles's minister father and, repenting his evil ways, had become an itinerant preacher. The sight of Tess, for whom he had always. lusted, caused a lapse in his new religious ferver, and he began to pursue her once more. Frightened, Tess wrote to Angel, sending the letter to his parents to forward to him'. and needed him, that an enemy was pursuing her. She begged him to forgive her and return to her.

The letter took several months to reach Angel. Meanwhile Alec was so kind to Tess and so generous to her family that she began to relent in her feelings toward him. At last, when she did not receive an answer from Angel, she wrote him a note saying that he was cruel not to forgive her and that now she would not forgive his treatment of her. Then she went to Alec again, living with him as his life.

It was thus Angel found her. He had come to tell her that he had forgiven her and that he still loved her. But when he found her with Alec, he turned away, more hurt than before. Tess, too, was bitterly unhappy. She now hated Alec because once again he had been the cause of her husband's repudiation of her feeling that she could find happiness only if Alec were dead, she stabbed him as he slept. Then she ran out of the house and followed Angel, who was aimlessly walking down a road leading out of the town.

When they met and Tess told him what she had done, Angel forgave her everything.even the murder of Alec. and they went on together. They were happy with one another for a few days, even though Angel knew that the authorities would soon find Tess.

When the officers finally found them, Tess was asleep. Angel asked the officers to wait until she awoke. As soon as she opened her eyes Tess saw the strangers and knew that they had come for her and that she would be hanged, but she was not unhappy. She had had a few days with the husband she truly loved, and now she was ready for her punishment. She stood up bravely and faced her captors. She was not afraid. .

**Let Us Sum Up :**

In this lesson, we have studied the nature as the fatal setting for Hardy's men and women, stifling their immense grandeur and safety.

**6. Sample Questions:**

1) Discuss Hardy's portrayal of Nature.

2) Discuss Hardy's philosophy of life in his imagination.

**8. TESS**1.

**Contents**:

1. Objective
2. Character of Tess
3. Other characters
4. Let Us Sum Up
5. Sample Questions 6. Suggested Reading

**1. Objective:**

of

· • to study the tragic tale of Tess, betrayed by man and Fate, alike

**2.Tess:**

- 'the pure woman' one of the noblest and complete Christian

characters in English literature.

**3. Other Characters:**

Angel Clara- the ineffectual, the somewhat indecisive, orthodox, opportunistic gentleman

-Alec- the typical remorseless villain

**4. Let Us Sum Up :**

- in this novel we have studied Tess of its tragic intensity and the immensity of Fate

Ultimately, Tess is a "pure woman".

**CHARACTERIZATION :**

**1. Tess:**

The setting for the novel *Tess* is the sorrowful years of the contemporary agricultural tragedy. Here Hardy has woven a ballad tale into the agricultural environment by also expressing Hardy's profound and vigorous feeling for the status of man in the natural order and his apprehension of a collapse. In this novel, what we have is not merely the tragedy of a heroic girl, but the tragedy of a proud community battled and defeated by processes beyond its understanding or control. For Tess is not only the pure woman, the ballad heroine, the country girl: she is the agricultural community in its moment of ruin. Here, in this novel, Hardy has explored in greater detail the decay in agricultural life. She dramatizes the defeat of Tess, the country and representative of an ancient country line and her ruin by the economic and spiritual invaders of country life. She is agricultural predicament in metaphor. engaging Hardy's deepest impulses of sympathy and allegiance. Tess is powerless and passive, caught by the machine's noise and motion.

of

Hardy has distinguished her by calling her" the pure woman". Her physical beauty, hereditary traits, her mental qualities and innocence moral and spiritual strength make her one of the most sublime characters in English Fiction, easily comparable to Shakespeare's tragic women. She is impressionable and poetic in her mind. Her soul soars into space when she gazes as the night heavens. She is heroic. She has perfect nobility and generosity of sentiment in her attitude towards her simple rivals. She believes that she has never wronged Clare or any human being awakes in her a passionate sense of cruel injustice. She has high sense of responsibility, as she sacrifices herself for the welfare of her family. She is essentially a selfless and dedicated girl. She surrenders to Alec for the sake of her family for the

Durbeyfield family is reduced to destitution after the death of John.

By nature, she has melancholic temparament. She is morbid in her thinking. Angel Clare notices her sad thoughts, as he discovers gloomy traces on her visage. She tells Angel that her life was wasted for want of chances. She tells that she is 'like poor queen of Sheba who lives in the Bible, without any spirit in her.There is no love for Alec in her. Her first meeting with him is marked by a strong dislike for him. She feels repelled by his advances, though she is fond of her. Finally she agrees to live with

Alec, for the sake of her family. When Angel has deserted her and Alec has been persistently importunate, she finds no other way but to accept the bounty of Alec. Only the moments of her relationship with Angel are the bright moments in her life, as her love for her is ideal and selfsacrificing. From her, she does her best to please him, as she adores him. As she does not want to deceive him, she writes a letter to him revealing her past. As she is a woman of conscience, she wants to be impeccably honest to her husband. She feels that she should never speak against him. In her letter to him, she writes to him that it is her religion to be faithful to him. She tells him that she is the same woman when he saw her the first time. Her love for Angel which is ceaseless, as she agrees to marry Alec only when she does not hear anything from Alec.

Most significantly, her endurance of her misfortunes is heroic, as her life is a drama of pain. She comes back to her village and endures the calamity for the sake of her family. The fury of the destructive fate on her life is limitless, as she becomes a victim in its hands. Besides her exquisite beauty, she is also endowed with animal spirit. As there is nothing ethereal about her she has vitality and warmth. She is all flesh and blood. According to Hardy, there is something of the habitude of the wild animal in her unreflecting instinct. She is highly modest with humility. She has an inherent sense of dignity without vanity or pride, as she never intends to hurt others feelings,

She is a pure woman, inspite of her seduction by Alec. Though according to conventional morality, she may not be pure but as her conscience is pure and untainted, she is a pure woman. She has purity of reason and mind, as it is realized by Angel. She stands brilliantly with a saintly purity of mind, perfection as one of the

greatest human beings in English literature. As her innocence is pure and transparent, she is an immortal symbol of the Christian sainthood. Without the Christian guilt, in a tragic character, in inspite of the personal tragedy in her life, she is the most compellingly by stoical character in English literature. She is endowed with lovable physical charms. She is portrayed as an exceptionally beautiful country girl.

Every body who sees her is fascinated by her freshness, and wonder if they would ever see her again. In fact, it is her physical charms that cause troubles to her. Both Alec and Angel get attracted towards her. Alec says that she can hold her own beauty against any woman of those parts, grows gentle or simple, as Angel calls her a fresh and virginal daughter of Nature. Her beauty as she 'from a deceptively mature girl to a young woman of twenty or so is continually stressed. Her mental qualities are no less rare and delightful. She is high-strung, impressionable and poetic; her soul soars into space when she gazes of the night heavens; in the stress of her emotions at the sound of Clare's harp the whole of the twilight garden grows instinct with harmony and passion.

She is heroic, for we hear of her many months of lovely self-chastisement, wrestlings and communings. And she shows perfect nobility and generosity in her attitude towards her simple rivals at the farm and her splendid faith in Clare, which is quite ineffable humility. Her knowledge that she has never wronged Clare or any human being awakens in her a passionate sense of cruel injustice. The welfare of her near and dear ones is the prime concern of her life, as she is essentially a selfless and dedicated girl. She gives up two-thirds of the money, left for her by Angel, which results into her hard and bitter toil at Flintcomb Ash. She surrenders to Alec for the sake of her family, for the Durbeyfield family is reduced to destitution after the death of John. She is grown into a reflective girl as her father is generally ill and drinks heavily and that her mother is 'always washing and never getting finished.

She is without spirit in her. The days passed with Angel are the only bright days in the life of Tess. She falls in love with him at the first sight, when she sees him while dancing with other village girls. Her love for Angel is ideal and self-sacrificing, as she him discloses her past. Her love for him does not diminish even to the end. Her love for him proves stronger than any other consideration, as her love is sublime. She dies for the sake of the honour of her husband. Her endurance of her misfortunes is quite heroic, as her life is a drama of pain. She comes back to her village and endures the calamity for the sake of the family.She leads a life of self-chastisement and penance. At Talbothays she tries to forget her grim past and make a fresh beginning, but soon Angel becomes a source of her further misfortune, as he looks upon her as a guilty woman in the guise of an innocent girl. He contemptuously calls her the belated seedling of an effete aristocracy. She endures all insults hurled by him at her but she is ready to embrace any punishment. She shows a rare fortitude in her endurance of her endless misfortunes.

Throughout the novel, her splendid animal nature has been emphasized again and again. According to Hardy, inspite of her beauty, there is nothing ethereal about her. She has a lot of vitality and warmth. She is so modest that she does not make any complaint to Angel in spite of his unjust treatment. She never intends to hurt others' feelings. She is a pure woman, as this quality distinguishes her among all heroines of Hardy.

**2.Angel Clare:**

Angel Clare, a parson's son is, a symbol of idealism and nobility. A truly Christian hero, endowed with practising the values of true love for others, he is a ennobled self. We first see him in the narrative, passing through the village of Marlott, along with his two elder brothers, at the evening, as again, we find him as the Talbothays dairy as a student of Kine. It is a unmitigated cruelty of fate that he becomes the source of most sorrowful misery in the life of Tess, another truly ennobling character, truly Christian in spirit. Between themselves, both these characters do not belong to this world, as they live to symbolise the values of other world.

He is a visionary youth with some level of determination, without the villainy of Alec. He has an uncribbed, uncabined aspect in his eyes and attire. He has 1 appreciative voice, a long regard of fixed, abstracted eyes, and a mobility of mouth some what too small and delicately lined for a man's, though with an unexpectedly firm close of the lower lip now and then, enough to do away with any inference of indecision. However, an air of vagueness and uncertainty in his demanour makes him appear like an individual without any determination or any practical wisdom in reaching material goals, in life, as Tess is attracted to his physical appearance, to begin with. However, afterwards, she is drawn to him to his brightest and radiant self within.

He is portrayed as a youth of sceptical and unorthodox nature, as in his early years. he rebelled against his father's orthodox religious views. As his goal is towards achieving something different from religious activities, he does not accept his father's desire to choose a clerical career. However, as he is stillrooted in his conventional thoughts, he is the slave to custom and conventionality. His emphasis is more on the qualities of mind and intellect, in his argument with Tess to destroy her simple and yet deep religious faith. With all his noble idealism, he applies the Victorian standards for evaluating the question of Tess's chastity. Though he agrees that she is more sinned than sinning, he does forgive her, as he tells her that "decrepit families imply decrepit wills, decrepit conduct". He is unhappy to tell her that as she wants her to be "the sprung child of nature, she has become the belated seedling of an effete aristoaracy".

With all his nobility of mind, he does not accept. Tess as his wife, as he has a "a hard, illogical deposit, like a vein of metal in soft loam". This narrow intellectual outlook also makes him illogical in his thinking, as he is not logical in his mind. However, with all his split attitude towards Tess, his love for her is deep, passionate and unquestionable. He is a romantic visionary, without practical wisdom. As a true lover, he is more romantic than rationalistic, as his love for her is platonic. For him, she is "a visionary essence of woman". She is the spiritual essence of his imagination and his life. Im Liza-Lu, whom he marries after Tess hangs herself, he discovers Tess in her. His reverence for his parents is unquestionable, as his narrow Victorian morality is replaced by a broad vision of life. In his visit to Brazil he realizes that the value of life is more in pathos than beauty. "Thus, with all his spiritual qualities and narrow Victorian values, he is the most lovable and inspiring character. Above and beyond anything else, his moral and spiritual superiority is far above the average morality.

**3. Alec d'Urberville**

Alec, the villain of the novel is a rampant sensualist. He is responsible for Tess's tragedy. He is a notorious philander, who takes pleasure in wooing young girls. He symbolizes Hardy's imagination of the idlerich. He is a typical villain of a melodrama. Without any appreciable physical grace, he has a dashing nature. He has a singular force in the gentlemen's face. He is a lake, a libertine who has ruined the lives of many innocent girls. He is a remorseless, brutal human being without any morality. He is a clever young man. Though he is temporarily attracted to religion, he forgets all his piety and passions by Tess is continued. He cleverly deceives Tess. Before sending her, he is attracted by her beautiful form. For him, she is a mere plaything to satisfy her lust. This conversion from a lecher to a preacher has surprised many readers and critics.

He is seen between two extremes. He comes under the religious, influence of the Rev. Mr Clare as his conversion is only skin-deep. Hardy's portrayal of him as a devil turned into a greater devil of immorality is excellently portrayed. This animalism and fanaticism and Paganism all define his cruel mind. Tess is aware of his religious hypocrisy. His conduct towards Tess after her marriage and separation show that he is repentant for his misdeeds. But he is deeply despaired to know that she is already married. He feels that he lost an opportunity to set right the wronged life of Tess. He is a Byronic figure. He is the arch sensualist of the novels, without Troy's remorse or Fitzpier's intellectuality or Wildey's courageous last moments. However, with all these frailties of mind, his generosity for Tess's finally is quite appreciable. Even with supposedly good qualities, his tragic interest in Tess's life is remorselessly and deserves all our condemnation.

Alec is a thorough going sensualist. He is responsible for the disaster of Tess, as he is a seasoned philanderer. He symbolizes Hardy's view of the idle rich, as he is a typical villain of a melodrama. He is not attractive, in appearance, though he is dashing in his

manners. He has "an almost swarthy complexion with full lips, badly moulded, though red and smooth. Despite the touches of barbarism in his contours, there was singular force in the gentleman's face and in his bold rolling eyes", according to Hardy. He is a rake, a libertine, who ruined the life of many innocent girls. He is entirely given to animal pleasures. His reputation "as a reckless gallant and heart-breaker was beginning to spread beyond the immediate boundaries of Trentbridge'. His is a domineering and brutal nature that tolerates no obstacle for its base animal satisfiction. Temporarily, he is diverted to religion, but as soon as he sees Tess, he forgets all his piety and sexual passion is revived once again in him. He entraps her so completely that she has to surrender herself to his sensuality.

He is a very clever young man, as he comes from a newly-rich family. He has tried to gain social status by adopting the old name of d' Urbervilles. From the beginning of his appearance, he is seen acting cleverly, as he addresses in his first encounter with Tess an "my pretty Coz" and allows her time to remove her fears and doubts from his side. He uses all the possible means and succeeds in seducing her, as the poor innocent Tess easily falls a victim to his tact and cunningness. Before seducing Tess, Alec is attracted by her beautiful form. He looks upon her as a mere plaything to satisfy his lust. But, gradually as his attitude towards her undergoes a change, he develops a liking for her. He learns to respect her. This religious conversion from a lecher into a preacher has surprised many. He is seen between two extremes. He comes under the religious influence of the Rev. Mr Clare but his conversion is skindeep, as it was a mere "transformation", but not reform. Tess is also aware that his transformation is not true and red, as she scolds him for his hypocrisy. According to Hardy, "reason had nothing to do with his whimsical conversion, which was perhaps the mere freak of a careless man in search of a new sensation; and temporarily impressed by his mother's death". His conduct towards Tess after her marriage and separation shows that he is repentant for his misdeeds. He is ready to marry her without any delay. He says to Tess that he has purified himself of his earlier sins, He feels that he has lost the opportunity of doing justice to one whom he had grievously wronged. Thus, he is a Byronic figure in the novel, as Hardy portrays him in a masterly fashion. He is the arch-sesualist of the novels, without Troy's remorse or Fitzpier's intellectuality or Wildeve's courageous last moments. Even with all his blemishes, in his character, he has some redeeming features.

**Critical Opinions :**

According to Arnold Kettle, this novel has all its high pitched emotional quality. For loving however she is a supremely drawn character with a cosmic intensity. For Abercrombic, the tortured life of Tess is the symbolic means wherein the premises of fate are quietly and ruthlessly worked out. For Irwing Howe, Tess is made real, though the craft of art, not Tess as she represents an idea. She embodies a feeling for the inviolability of the person, as it brings the absolute of chastity nearer to the warming Christian virtue of Charity. She reaches a purity of spirit, as she fails to satisfy the

standards of the world. According to Legouis and Cazamion, Hardy's gaze of Nature perceives time as well as space.

**Other Minor Characters:**

Jack Durbeyfield, Tess's hapless father, without wisdom and a sense of responsibility, is a drunkard with a vanity of his family pride. He is the source of Tess's tragedy. His wife and mother of Tess, Joan Durbeyfield is an over-optimistic woman is another reason for their daughter's tragedy. The Reverend Mr. Clare, Angle's father and the vicar of Emminstar is praised for his religiosity and sincerity by everybody in his place. The three mild maids 122 Huett and RettyPriddle are the other unforgettable, minor, yet memorable characters. In fact, nature is the most powerful force behind the tragic drama of Tess", the pure woman", memorable in the English tragic world.

# YOGI VEMANA UNIVERSITY,KADAPA

**DEPARTMENT OF ENGLISH**

**M.A ENGLISH LITERATUREAND LANGUAGE**

**SEMESTER – I**

**ENGYVU104: INTRODUCTION TO LINGUISTICS AND PHONETICS**

**FOUNDATION (A)**

**With Effect From 2021-22 (Under NEP 2020 )**

## Program Educational Objectives (PEOs)

- Orientation about features of language.
- Familiarity about distinction between Animal & Human Communication.
- Awareness about linguistics and its scope.
- Insights on Diachronic & Synchronic Study.

**UNIT – I**

**A. Language – Definition – Features – Human Language vs. Animal**

**B. Language- Definition and Scope of Linguistics- Significant Dimensions of Study.**

**UNIT – II**

**A. Brief History of English Language- Features of Old English and Middle English – Influences (Latin, French, and Indian)**

**B. Standard English- English as a Global language, Varieties of English (British and American)**

**UNIT – III**

**A. Description of Speech Sounds – Speech Mechanism – Stress/ Rhythm – Intonation**

**B. Phones – Phonemes – Allophones.**

**UNIT – IV**

**A. Morphology – Morphs – Allomorphs**

**B. Word formation processes – Simple, Complex and Compound Words.**

## Program Specific Outcomes (PSOs)

- Creates understanding of word formation process and important morphological process.
- Creates awareness about Standard English language.
- Develops understanding about Standard English and important varieties of English language.
- Lends conceptual knowledge prosodic of English Language

## *Suggested Reading*:


- The Study of Language, George Yule, , Cambridge University 2017
- History of English Language by Albert C Baugh (Author), Thomas Cable (Author) 2011


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of

# UNIT I

Language def:

Language is a system of communication used by people of a particular country or area for speech and writing.

Richard Norquist in his opinion it is communication of thoughts and feelings through the system of arbitrary signals such as voice sounds gestures or written symbols.

Language consists of symbols that contain meaning, rules compiling these symbols that can be used to generate an infinite number of messages.

Blooh and Tragger:

We can define language as a system of communication using sounds or symbols that enable us to express our feelings, thoughts, ideas and experiences.

Language is a system of symbols by means of which a social group operates. It is a sequence of sounds produced by man with the helpof organs of speech Samuel peter.

The complex of system of speaking habits Hawkeit (1955)

Difference definitions of language given by people from different works of life

Language is an instrument of expression of ideas. – common man

Language is a device which eliminates the impediments of language by language teacher.

Language is a powerful tool to distinguish animal and human behaviour – psychologists.

Language is part of investigating culture- anthropologist.

It is a tool to document history be verifying inscriptions and records – historian

Language is an important tool to discuss philosophy and its implications- Philosophy.

Language helps in presenting facts in oral or written form -Journalist

Features of human language

Reknown linguist hawkeit in 1955 enumerated certain essential features of human language. They are as follows.

Quality of structure: according to Hawkeit, Language has the property of Duality. Language exist at a levels, the higher and lower level. The higher level consists of some meaning units such as words and morphemes and the lower level is seen as sequence of segments which lack any meaning in themselves. But which combine to form units of meaning in simple expressions, meaningless units are combined to form arbitrary signs words and signs in turn or recombine to form larger meaningful units. Eg. Spot- spots. Stop, pots.

Creativity and productivity:

Human language has the ability to produce new messages or any topic at any time. A sentence never heard of before can be created by human beings.

Eg. Last night I have a pleasant dinner with leopard on top of the tree.

Interchangiability:

All members can stand and receive messages.

Cultural transmission: human language is something that is culturally transmitted. It is not something that is generically inherited. Languages have to be learnt. They cant be transmitted through hereditary. Human language is non instinctive which means it has to be acquired and learnt.

Instinctive: for animals, knowledge is genetically transmitted bees building bee hives without any formal training and without any knowledge of geometry is an instinctive act. Similarly spyder building a cob web without any exposure to dimensions, length reflects that both knowledge and skill for building are instinctive on other hand for human beings the sill of language is non instinctive. Humans build houses by acquiring the knowledge of construction or by virtue of experimental learning. Therefore language for human beings is culturally transmitted not something that is built.

Displacement:

As far as human language is concerned there is no total physical involvement in the act of communication. Humans can talk while engaged in the activities totally unrelated to the subject. For ex. Talking about films or cricket while eating or cutting vegetables in kitchen.

Arbitrariness : there is no natural connection between form and meaning. Only connection is arbitrary that is by chance or randomly chosen. In human language no link exists between form and meaning, signal and messaage. If any connections exist it is merely by chance.

Redundancy:

Human language is redundant, the markers that we use in the sentences like the punctuation marks and the helping verbs that we use are not to be expected in animal system of communication.

Discreetness: this feature of discreetness is unique as for as human language is concerned. It has varied units such as sounds, words. Phonemes. Morphemes allophones, allomorphs, phrases and clauses. A word is a sentence has difference units and subunits.

Animal language vs Human Language

It is undeniable fact that all creatures are capable of communicating with other species of other members. Both human language and animal system of communication have some common as well as varying features. Human language and animal communication both in terms of their potential as a means of intentional communication have commonality.

Displacement:

The vocal calls of a cat or a dog meou and grrr of a dog seen to be designed for that moment here and now. Animal system of communication unlike human language is not context free. The only exception is the dancing of a bee when it finds a source of nectar and returns to the bee hive performing a complex dance to communicate other bees about the location of source.

Arbitrary:

For the majority of animal signals their seems to be a clear connection between the conveyed message and signal used to convey it. Each variety of animal communication consists of a fixed and limited set of vocal or gestural forms. There are some words in human language with lesser arbitrary connection.

Productivity:

It is not possible for creatures other than human to produce new signals in order to communicate experiences or units the limiting feature of animal communication is described in terms of fixed references.

Dolphins- seven to nineteen

Pigs- twenty three

Dogs- ten

Cicadis- four

Velver monke ( Baboons) – thirty six

Cultural transmission:

Animals are born with specific signals that are produced instinctively. There is some evidence from studies of birds that instinct has to be combined with learning or exposure in order to produce right sound.

Duality:

Unlike human language no dualilty of structure exists in animal system of communication. Each communicative signalof an animal appears to be a single fixed form which conat be broken into separate units. Your dog may be able to produce a sound woof ( I am happy to see you) it doesn't seem to do so on the basis of a distinct level of production combining of simple elements w+o+o+.

Talking to animals:

The responses of animals to words like up and down are to a particular sound stimulus or noise. It is clear that they hardly understand human language the responses to noises created never form the basis to believe that non humans can understand human language.

| s.n | Feature | Human Language | Animal Language of communication |
|---|---|---|---|
| 1 | Displacement | yes | no |
| 2 | Arbitrary | Yes | |
| 3 | Productivity | Yes | no |

| | | | |
|---|---|---|---|
| 4 | Cultural transmission | No | Yes |
| 5 | Duality | Yes | No |
| 6 | Instinctive | No | Yes |
| 7 | Redundancy | yes | No |

Linguistics: scientific study of language including study of its grammar, syntax, Phonetics. Langugae is s science as well as the social science. The study of language which is empirical and objective. Language is a social science and linguistics as a branch of study, studies language which is a form of social behaviour and exists interaction between human beings in society.

Other definitions:

Linguistics is learning about language rather than learning a language.

Robins

Linguistics is concerned with human language universal and recognizable part of human behaviour and for human faculties perhaps one of essentiality as u know one of the more furnishing of human capabilities in relation to whole span of mankind . Language attempts to let us know how clearly language works. Branch of human study that focuses particularly the and Properties of language.

Linguistics can be defined as a scientific Enquiry into human language Into His structure It's uses relationships between them as well into development and acquisition of language.

Linguistics is the name given to discipline which studies language- widdowson.

Types:

Descriptive Linguistics:

It concerned itself with ways enrich a language operates and is used by a given set of speakers at a time. It aims at examining the language. (robbin-1895 classified Types)

Historical linguistics:

It is a branch of study which essentially deals with development of language in the course of time. The ways in which the language undergoes change from period to period.

Comparative linguistics:

It is a branch of study which deals with the activity of comparing two or more languages, at the same time when two or more languages ae contrasted it comes unde the perview of contrastive linguistics.

The historical studyof language is called diachronic study non historical study of language is called diachronic study. Non historical study of language is called synchronic study. This distinction is given by Sassure (1916), Diachronic study of language examines origin, growth, influences and history of particular language where as synchronic study of language concerns itself with study of features language and its significant dimensions namely sounds, words, structures and manning.

Scope:

Linguistics is a broad are of study which has the potential to examine difference from other disciplines. The study of language has relevance in difference field's such as psychology, anthropology, history sociology, culture studies. Therefore, linguistics has both inter disciplinary and multidisciplinary dimensions based on its preview, linguistics can be further classified into many branches which are as follows.

Applied linguistics:

It is an important branch of linguistics which concerns itself with application of knowledge in application of language studies, structure, the acquisition of first and the subsequent languages. Language teaching translation and speech therapy come under the ambitious frame work of applied linguistics.

Socio linguistics:

It is a branch of linguistics which deals with exploration of relationship between language and society. It examines the social relevance of particular language its dialects, its accents and different varieties used by different social groups. It also examines the use of register i.e. language used by different fields such as law medicine, business.

Psycho linguistics:

This is an important branch of linguistics primarily deals with mental processes of thought and concept formation besides articulation of thoughts using language. Thoughts will be a great deal about the structure of both human psychology and language.

Important dimensions of study:

In study of any language, certain dimensions are crucial. As , they form the basis for the use of language in different context and situations. The following are considered to be important dimensions of language.

Phonetics

Phonology

Morphology

Syntax

Semantics

Pragmatics

The study of any language is incomplete without examining the above dimensions.

Phonetics:

It is an important branch of linguistics which deals with the characteristics of speech sound. Further it examines the production, transmission and the reception of all speech sounds that the human vocal apparatus can produce.

There are three types of phonetics.

Articulatory phonetics:

Production of speech sounds comes under frame work of articulatory phonetics. The sounds include speech sounds produced by human vocal tract.

Acoustic phonetics:

As a branch of phonetics deals with physical transmission of speech sounds from speaker to the listener.

Auditory phonetics:

The study of reception and perception of speech sounds by listener comes under the frame work of auditory phonetics.

Phonology:

As a branch of linguistics studies the way and manner in which the speaker of a language systematically use a selection of sounds in order to express meaning. The first purpose of phonology is to discover the principles that govern the way sounds are organised in a particular language.

Essentially there are two principles that govern the ways of selection of sound they are.

Principle contrastive distribution

Principle of complementary distribution

Principle of contrastive distribution

The classes of sound are set to be in contrastive distribution when words such as p b occur initially as in the words pat and bat. They are distinct sounds and in contrast though they occur in similar phonological environment.

Principle of complementary distribution:

A classes of sounds are said to be in complementary distribution. If there is such context first class only occur and other clas cant occur. The occurrence of aspirated p in initial position and the occurrence of un aspirated p which can occur either in medical or in final position in words pet, tap.

Morphology:

Morphology is the study on how words are created from smaller elements, and the changes made to those smaller elements in the process of building lexemes and word-forms. In linguistics point of view, many experts define morphology as the study of the internal structure of words.

Syntax:

The word syntax is derived from Greek language which literally means putting together. Syntax as an important dimension of linguistics deals with the structuring of phrases and sentences. Any language has surface structure which is apparent and deep structure involving different parts of speech and constituent elements.

Semantics:

It is the study of the meaning of a language according to famous linguist Leech, semantics concerns itself giving a systematic account of nature of meaning. Often in any language the relationship between words and objects which they represent is always puzzling.

Famous language exponents Ogden and Richards prescribed the following features of meaning. Meaning is an intrinsic proper type of something other words related to that in a dictionary  The connotations of a word.

The thing to which that speaker should speak.

The thing to which that hearer of the word believes is meaning too.

Different types of meaning:

Denotative logical meaning: the literal meaning of the word indicating the idea or concept to which it refers to the concept is the minimal unit of meaning i.e., Sememe, it includes the terms which help in defining and providing the definition of the word.

Th word amn may be defined as a concept consisting of structure of a meaning human + male+ adult express through a morphological unit which consist of a morpheme and also including the sounds which can be represented phonetically.

Connotative meaning: the meaning attach to a word which comes from its reference to other things in a real world.

The words such as fire, sea, flower, lam ring with them other meanings used as symbols and also to compare and contrast.

Social meaning: meaning of a particular word or phrase which conveys about the circumstances of its use.

Ex: the word residence is used in formal context the word domicileis used for official purposes and the word abode is used in poetic sense. Fundamentally all this words refer toa dwelling place but used as for the circumstances.

Thematic meaning: any active sentence has a different passive equivalent. Although its conceptual meaning seems to be same such a meaning is called thematic meaning.

Lexical and dramatically meaning: there is a difference between word meaning and sentence meaning and sentence meaning. The meaning of an individual lexical item is distinct from the meaning which it has in combination of other items in a sentence.

Ex. The word have possess both lexical meaning as well as dramatically depending on its use in a sentence.

Pragmatics:

It is the study of the speakers meaning and invisible meaning. Further pragmatics as an important branch of linguistics studies the relationship between linguistic forms and users form. The word pragmatics is coined by famous philosopher C.W. Morris. It studies about how the human mind works when they communicate and how they manipulate words and how they use language to convey. What they wish to convey. To put in simple expressions pragmatics meaning semantics but both semantics and pragmatics deals with meaning.

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UNIT II

English language, Language belonging to the Germanic languages branch of the Indo-European language family, widely spoken on six continents. The primary language of the U.S., Britain, Canada, Australia, Ireland, New Zealand, and various Caribbean and Pacific island nations, it is also an official language of India, the Philippines, and many sub-Saharan African countries. It is one of the most widely spoken languages in the world (approximately 1.5 billion speakers), the mother tongue of more than 350 million people, and the most widely taught foreign language. English relies mainly on word order (usually subject-verb-object) to indicate relationships between words (*see* syntax). Written in the Latin alphabet, it is most closely related to Frisian, German, and Dutch. Its history began with the migration of the Jutes, Angles, and Saxons from Germany and Denmark to Britain in the 5th and 6th centuries. The Norman Conquest of 1066 brought many French words into English. Greek and Latin words began to enter it in the 15th century, and Modern English is usually dated from 1500. English easily borrows words from other languages and has coined many new words to reflect advances in technology.

Old English & Characteristics –

The Old English Period extends from AD 450 to AD 1150 and may be further divided into early Old English and Late English periods. Old English or Anglo-Saxon period covers the span of time from the earliest written records and documents about the end of the 7th century to the beginning of the 12th century.

Old English was almost a pure, unmixed language with very little foreign element in it. A very significant fact about Old English is that it is nearer the modern German than the Modern English.

**Pronunciation in Old English –**

The most significant feature of Old English is its pronunciation of words differing from the ones that exist today. In the words of A.C. Baugh," The pronunciation of Old English words commonly differs somewhat from that of their modern equivalents.

The long vowels in particular have gone a considerable modification. Thus the Old English word ‘ stan’ is the same word as Modern word ‘stone’, but the vowel is different.” In Old English script there are seven vowels symbols – a, e, i, o, u and y and the digraph ‘ae’ which is called ‘ash’.

All the seven vowels represent either short or long sounds. The Old English consonants have mostly the same sounds as in Modern English, but some need special comment. The letter ‘h’ was more strongly pronounced than it is in Modern English. The Old English script does not have the letter ‘v’, ‘f’ serves for the sounds of both ‘f’ and ‘v’.

The Old English also had differences in spelling which baffle the modern readers.

**Grammar in Old English –**

The second characteristic feature of Old English, which is most fundamental and distinguishes it from Modern English, is its grammar. It is an inflected language though not so highly inflected as the classical languages such as Sanskrit, Latin and Greek. Old English indicates the relation of words in a sentence largely by the means of inflections.

Old English nouns have two numbers – singular and plural. It has three genders – masculine, feminine and neuter. The system of gender is irrational because it is not dependent upon the consideration of sex. In Modern English all males are said to be masculine, females feminine and inanimate things neuter.

Thus in Old English stan ( stone ) is masculine, German words like maegolon ( girl), wif ( wife), bearn ( child, son) which we expect to be feminine or masculine are in fact neuter. The word wifmann ( woman) is masculine because the second element of the compound is masculine.

Another feature of Old English is that the adjectives like nouns have gender. The adjective takes the gender of the noun with which it is associated.

There are four cases namely Nominative, Genitive, Dative and Accusative. The system of declension is very complex. In the Old English, noun gets inflected according to its number and case. It has chiefly four cases and the endings of these vary with different nouns. There

are two chief declensions – vowel declension and consonant declension. Vowel declension is called strong declension and consonant one is weak declension.

**Vocabulary in Old English**

The Old English was pure and unmixed. Except for a few Latin Words relating to the Church and its rituals, and sprinkling of Celtic and Old Norse words, its vocabulary with the exception of five hundred loan words consisted of about thirty thousand words inherited from the common Teutonic stock.

Many thousands of these words survived a number of historic and linguistic upheavals and are still in daily use, however a lot meanings, functions and forms may have been modified. These words throw light on the condition of life, occupations, culture and civilization of the English race at that stage.

The Old English writers preferred coining compound words and derivatives from native words. This resourcefulness is characteristic of Old English.

So, Old English vocabulary is pure and unmixed. Yet, it is a rich and picturesque one, capable of expressing new ideas.

**Middle English**

**David Crystal explains how Middle English developed from Old English, changing its grammar, pronunciation and spelling and borrowing words from French and Latin.**

'Middle English' – a period of roughly 300 years from around 1150 CE to around 1450 – is difficult to identify because it is a time of transition between two eras that each have stronger definition: Old English and Modern English. Before this period we encounter a language which is chiefly Old Germanic in its character – in its sounds, spellings, grammar and vocabulary. After this period we have a language which displays a very different kind of structure, with major changes having taken place in each of these areas, many deriving from the influence of French following the Norman Conquest of 1066.

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**Continuity**

Continuity between Old and Middle English is mainly to be seen in texts of a religious, political or administrative character, thousands of which have survived. Most of the surviving material is religious in character – about a third are collections of homilies (a type of sermon). The writings of Ælfric, in particular, continued to be copied throughout the period, and these overlap with sermons from the 12th century that are very clearly in an early form of Middle English.

Although the earliest surviving writings in the period are only about a century after the latest writings in Old English, Middle English texts feel very much closer to Modern English in their grammar and vocabulary. By the time we get to Chaucer, in the 14th century, we can find many phrases and sentences which – if we modernise the spelling – look just like an archaic version of Modern English, as in the opening of *The Canterbury Tales*:

Whan that Aprill with his shoures soote
The droghte of March hath perced to the roote,
And bathed every veyne in swich licour
Of which vertu engendred is the flour…

[When that April with his showers sweet
The drought of March hath pierced to the root
And bathed every vein in such liquor
Of which virtue engendered is the flower..

Latin has influenced the English language tremendously. Most of the influence, however, has been indirect. The indirect effect of Latin on English came mainly after the Normans invaded England in 1066. Their language, not suprisingly, influenced English. Since their language (French) was a Romance language descended from Latin, this gave Latin an indirect influence on English.

Latin also influenced Old English directly because of the Roman Conquest of England. But this influence was not as great or as lasting as the indirect influence.

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In between the end of Roman occupation and the Norman invasion, Latin also influenced English because Latin was the language of the Catholic Church (which was then the only Christian church).

About 70% of our english words come from Latin. This alone make Latin the most important language to influence English. For example, the word, promise, comes from "pro-mitto," meaning to send before. Here are some more examples: word = verbum; canine = canis; college =collegium. I think you get the picture. Also Latin has influenced our grammar. For example, the distinction between "I" and "me" is based on cases. I equals nominative case in Latin and me equals dative, ablative and accusative cases. Even little things like the improper use of split infinitives come from Latin, since in Latin infinitives cannot be split. For example, to love is amare (one word) in Latin. So, in short, Latin continues to play a huge role.

Among the three great influences, –**Latin, French, Scandinavian**, -Latin is the oldest. There three influences have changed the content and characteristic of the Keltic language, the original language of English. Before 499, -the period of the settlement of the Anglo-Saxon, in 'Briton', -the present England had Roman occupation. It was a pre-historical period. Since then, Latin element began to enter into the then language of England. Again, in the remote past, Greek-language was the highest cultural language. Some of the Greek-words, after being converted into Latin found inception into the English language. So, by the classical linguistic influence is meant, the simultaneous influence of the two classical languages, – Greek and Latin Word coinage from Latin is a prolonged continuation. It had started from the pre-historical period ,and had been continuing in greater and less extent till the renaissance, and it is still continuing. To have a comprehensive resultant of the influence , the philologists and the scholars have marked the span of the influence into three distinguished and decisive phases .
These three stages are, -(a) pre-Christian-period (b) the period of conversion of the English people Christianity(597A.D.) (c) the period covering the Renaissance and the post Renaissance ,-in the 16th century.

As subrataray says, the Latin influence on English vocabulary has been 3-fold. Moreover, the Latin words were mixed up with the Greek in most cases, and hence it should be called the Latin and Greek influence.

The **1st phase** of importing Latin words into English began long before the Angles and Jutes came to England, and the Germanic forefarthers of the English were still living in the Continent. The words that were imported during this phase were mainly related to plants, fruits, food; eg. *wine, pea, plum, cheese, mint, street, cook, kitchen, milk.* These did not necessarily exist in these forms, and the original words have undergone many changes.

The **2nd phase** of Latin loan words came to England with the Christian Missionaries in the late 6th and 7th centuries A.D. They brought in with them ideas related to religion, the Church and monastic living. Eg:*minster(L. monesterium), monk(L. monachus), bishop(L. episcopus), priest(L. presbyter), church(L.cyriacum).* Most of these words were Greek, which entered English via Latin. During this phase the following words came from Latin to English :- *apostle, disciple, Pope, archbishop, provost, abbot; shrine, cowl, pall, rule, mass, offer, altar, anthem, martyr, incarnate, pulpit, rosary, scripture.*

With Christianity, clasical & scientific learning, concepts of law were also introduced. Eg: *legal, prosecute, custody, zenith, index, mechanical, allegory, ornate, scripture.*

The **3rd phase** came with the great revival of classical scholarship in England in the 16th century. The words came over through the medium of writing, and were first absorbed and used by the learned, before filtering to the other classes.

1. Some words which had come from French were latinized:

*verdit – verdict, perfet – perfect, doute – doubt, dette – debt, langage – language, avis – advice, aventure – adventure, al-amir(Arabic) – amiral(Fr & Mid E) – admiral, avril – april.*

2. Many new words were invented on classical analogies.

a. native words + L. suffix : *starvation, heathenism, talkative*,etc

b. Gk word + L. suffix : *climactic*

c. L. prefix + native word : *ex-king, interchange, preview, rebirth.*

d. Eng proper names with latinized adjectives : *Oxford – Oxonian, Shakespeare – Shakespearean.*

3. Many Latin words and English synonyms which exist side by side

a. with same meaning : *fire – conflagaration, ask – interrogate, truth – veracity.*

b. have acquired slightly different connotations and are used in different contexts : *same – identical, youthful – juvenile, readable – legible, manly – masculine, greatness – magnitude*.

4. Some native nouns have English and/or Latin adjectives : *father – fatherly, paternal; king – kingly, royal, regal; mouth – oral, nose -nasal, heaven – heavenly, celestial; water – watery, acquatic; mind – mental; moon – lunar; sun – solar; son/daughter – filial, eye – ocular; home – domestic.*

**The Influence of French on the English Language!**

Have you ever wondered why there are so many French words in the English language? Would you like to know why nearly 45% of all English words are of French origin? If you replied yes to both questions, here are a few things you need to know about **the influence of the French on the English language**.

Cactus offers outstanding immersive language courses for adults and juniors, online language courses and private classes. If you have any questions about any of our courses please call us on +44 1273 830 960 or contact us. Our team of multilingual experts will be happy to answer any questions you may have.

**Interesting Facts – The Influence of The French on the English Language:**

**William the Conqueror**

The Norman invasion of England in 1066 had a major impact not only on the country, but also on the English language. William the Conqueror and his merry band of Normans brought with them Norman French, which became the language of the court, government and the upper class for the next three centuries. English continued to be used by ordinary people, and Latin was the language of the church.

During the period when Norman French was the dominant language, English was rarely used in writing, and started to change in many ways. Before the conquest English had a much more complex grammar, however 70 or 80 years later, the grammar had become much simpler. This change is known as the transformation from Old English to Middle English. At the same time Norman French became Anglo-Norman as it was itself affected by English.

More than 10,000 French words found their way into English – words associated with government, law, art, literature, food, and many other aspects of life. About three quarters of these words are still used, and words derived directly or indirectly from French now account

for more than a third of English vocabulary. In fact English speakers know around 15,000 French words, even before they start learning the language.

Quite a lot of the words of French origin used in English sit alongside native English ones, and in some cases there are words of Latin and/or Greek origin with similar meanings. Beef (from French *boeuf*) is meat from a cow (from Old English *cu*), a type of bovine (from Latin *bovinus* via French *bovin*). A king (from Old English *cyning*) can be kingly, royal (from French *roial*) and regal (from Latin *regalis*).

In some cases words with the same or similar meanings were borrowed from both Norman French and Parisian French at different times. For example *warden* comes from Norman French, while *guardian* comes from Parisian French.

Pronunciation and Grammar

The pronunciation of English changed to some extent under the influence of French, as did the spelling. For example, the Old English spellings cw, sc and c became qu, sh and ch, so we now write *queen* rather than cwen, *ship* rather than scip, and *should* rather than scolde.

English grammar did take on a few French structures, such as putting in adjectives after nouns in some expressions – attorney general, secretary general, surgeon general.

**More Information About Languages:**

Are you looking to start learning a language and have full-immersive experience? Are you looking to find our more than the influence of French on the English language? Cactus offers a variety of great language courses across the world, online and in the UK, and private classes.

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The Influence of Indian languages on English

English is the most global of languages and has been enriched by languages from all over the world since the age of colonialism.

The association of the British with India started in the early part of the 17th century with the first East India company voyage in 1601, which eventually resulted in the company controlling India from 1757 till 1858. The rule was then passed to the Crown and lasted till India's independence in 1947.

This rather long period resulted in India adopting English as its official language post independence and several Indian languages leaving their impact on English.

India is an extremely diverse subcontinent with a rich array of languages that run into the hundreds. India has 22 official languages, 150 major languages and about 1652 recorded languages and dialects (1962 census).

When two cultures are exposed to each other over an extended time, their languages begin to influence each other and words from one language are assimilated into the other. The assimilation could take place with the same pronunciation as the donor language or a distortion depending on the pronunciation limits of the recipient language.

An interesting distortion – 'Doolally Tap'

'Doolally tap' is a phrase that has made its way into the English language from India. The Oxford English dictionary defines 'Doolally tap' as 'Temporarily deranged or feeble-minded'. Typically, when 'Doolally tap' is used in Britain, the 'tap' is used meaning a knock on the head causing insanity, and the forehead or temple is tapped to indicate that a person has the 'Doolally tap'.

Deolali is a small town in the Marathi speaking state of India – Maharashtra. Geographically it falls under a high temperature zone. Deolali was a transit camp for British troops during the British Raj. British troops were stationed in Deolali awaiting their return home to Britain. Over the years, Deolali became notorious for its unpleasant environment, high temperatures, boredom and malarial fever, which caused delusions in British troops. There were several cases of mental disorders and 'Doolally tap' was born.

The English alphabet and the way in which English is pronounced make it very difficult to trap and convey the pronunciation of Indian languages, hence Deolali (Actual pronunciation –They-Oh-Lah-Lee) became Doolally. In Marathi, the local language spoken in Deolali, the word for fever is 'Thaap'. It derives from Sanskrit, the ancient Vedic language of India. 'Thaap' was spelled as 'Tap' in English and even pronounced as such. Over time and repeated use, the 'Deolali thaap' morphed into 'Doolally tap' – the first word undergoing a mere pronunciation change but the second morphing to its original English meaning – 'tap'!

Some words from India that made their way into English:

While the list runs into the hundreds, below are 20 common words in English that have their etymological roots in Indian languages.

**Avatar** – Sanskrit for 'Incarnation'. Traditionally used for the 'incarnations' of the Hindu God 'Vishnu' on earth, it is also used for a 'new form' taken by someone. The connotation in English is similar, though the word has become more popular with the advent of the web in the way of online 'Avatars'.

**Guru** – Sanskrit for 'Teacher', it dates back to the times of the Vedanta. The connotation in English, though, is more as an 'Expert' on a subject.

**Pundit** – Hindi for 'Learned one'. In India, 'Pundit' is an exalted title for a person who has achieved great heights in a field involving the intellect or fine arts. It also means 'Priest'.

**Zen** – Yes, Zen has its etymological roots in Sanskrit. Zen is derived from the Chinese 'Chan' for meditation, which in turn is derived from the Sanskrit word 'Dhyana' for meditation.

**Mantra** – Sanskrit for 'incantation' or 'chant'. Mantras in India are supposed to have special powers and are prescribed as remedies for rectifying spiritual issues. The English connotation of course is that of a panacea for a particular problem from a statement or slogan recited repeatedly.

**Juggernaut** – The English connotation is 'a huge, overwhelming and unstoppable force'. It is derived from the name of God Vishnu – Jagannath.

The Jagannath temple in Puri in Eastern India has an annual festival where a huge chariot seating the deity is dragged with ropes by devotees. In bygone days (and days of the British

Raj) such was the religious fervour that devotees would sometimes get crushed under the chariot but it could not and would not be stopped. Hence the derivation.

**Khaki** – First used as a colour in 1848 , khaki was conceived as a camouflage colour for desert warfare. The word 'Khak' in Hindi means 'Ash' or 'Soil'.

**Shampoo** – Yes indeed, the word is derived from the 18th century Hindi word -'Champo' which meant massage into the head/hair.

**Loot** – From Gurus and Zen to yes –Loot, which is Hindi for, you got it – Loot!

**Thug** – From the Hindi word 'Thug'. Thugs were organised robbers and assassins in India. Notoriously secretive and skilled, they would strangle passers-by on forest routes with their legs, hanging down from trees. They also used yellow scarves with a coin tied in the centre to quickly strangle victims.

**Mugger** – Hindi for 'Crocodile'. The crocodile is a master of ambush hence the connotation in English.

**Dacoit** – From the Hindi word 'Dakait' which meaning 'Dacoit' of course!

**Chutney** – From the Tamil word 'Chatni'. One of the most commonly used culinary accompaniments in India. A mix of condiments and spices used as a sauce or accompaniment to specific dishes or even as a common one to several dishes.

**Pukka** – In English it means 'First rate' or 'Excellent'. It derives from the Hindi word 'Pakka' which means 'Ripe', 'Cooked' or 'Done', hence ready for consumption.

**Jute** – From the Bengali word 'Jatho' which means matted or interwoven fabric or hair.

**Bungalow** – From the Hindi word 'Bangla'. Houses in India that were constructed in the 'Bengali' style were known as 'Banglas'.

**Bandanna** – From the Hindi word 'Bandhan' which means 'Tie'. 'Bandhana' in Hindi means 'to tie'.

**Punch** – (As in fruit punch) – From the Hindi word 'Paanch' which means 'Five'. The drink's original five ingredients were spirits, water, lemon juice, sugar and spice.

**Pajamas** – From the Hindi word 'Paijama' meaning 'Leg garment'.

**Bandicoot** – From the Telugu word ‘Pandi-kokku’ which means ‘Pig Rat’.

**Standard English** is the form of English widely recognised and accepted as **'correct'**. It is often used in **formal situations** (e.g. in an exam) and when we are being **polite** (e.g. speaking to your headteacher).

It is important to remember that there isn't just one 'Standard English' as different English-speaking countries have slight variations in their standard. Some standard English examples include British English, standard American English, and more.

Each variety of Standard English **follows specific, regularised grammar rules** that we learn in school. This includes examples of rules such as the correct use of punctuation, spelling, forms of verbs, etc.

Let's look a bit further into the characteristics and conventions of standard British English, its uses, and the different examples between standard and non-standard English.

What are some standard English examples?

Let's take a look at some standard English examples in context:

Context - You're speaking to an elderly neighbour

*'Good morning Jim. How are you? What are your plans for today?*

Context - You receive an email from the headteacher

*'The football game is postponed until tomorrow due to severe weather conditions.'*

But what exactly makes these examples the standard? Well, the best way to understand standard English is to compare these same examples to the opposite type - non-standard English:

Context - You're speaking to your best friend

*'Alright mate? What you up to today?'*

Context - You receive a text from your brother

*'The footy is put off til tomo bc of the rain :( '*

As you can see, the standard and non-standard have a completely different tones and are used in different contexts. The non-standard examples include less formal language ('alright mate'), abbreviations ('til', 'tomo'), and emoticons ' :( ', whereas the standard presents more formal, standardised language ('how are you?', 'postponed').

Let's look a bit deeper into the differences between standard and non-standard English.

Non-standard and Standard English

As we've already looked at a definition of Standard English, here's one for non-standard English:

Non-standard English refers to all other varieties of English. It often contains slang and is used in more informal situations.

The main areas of difference between standard and non-standard English are:

Formality - Standard English is used in formal, official, and situations where we are expected to be polite (e.g. speaking to authority, in emails, in law and politics, speaking to a neighbour or relative you haven't seen for years, etc.). We are more likely to use non-standard English in informal situations, such as speaking to our best friends or siblings, writing funny text messages, memes, etc.

English grammar - Standard English maintains a standard through regularised grammatical rules and conventions. We are expected to use the 'correct' spelling, grammar, punctuation, etc. Non-standard English is much freer in terms of grammatical rules and is open to change. For example, some non-standard dialects use the plural second-person pronoun 'yous', meaning 'you lot'.

Slang - Standard English avoids slang and colloquial language, whereas non-standard English uses lots of slang words and regularly innovates new words. We also use abbreviations in non-standard English, especially in text messages, e.g. 'ttyl' meaning 'talk to you later' and 'lmk' meaning 'let me know'.

of

British and American English

History

The British actually introduced the language to the Americas when they reached these lands by sea between the 16th and 17th centuries. At that time, spelling had not yet been standardised. It took the writing of the first dictionaries to set in stone how these words appeared. In the UK, the dictionary was compiled by London-based scholars. Meanwhile, in the United States, the lexicographer was a man named Noah Webster. Allegedly, he changed how the words were spelled to make the American version different from the British as a way of showing cultural independence from its mother country.

In terms of speech, the differences between American and British English actually took place after the first settlers arrived in America. These groups of people spoke using what was called rhotic speech, where the 'r' sounds of words are pronounced. Meanwhile, the higher classes in the UK wanted to distinguish the way they spoke from the common masses by softening their pronunciation of the 'r' sounds. Since the elite even back then were considered the standard for being fashionable, other people began to copy their speech, until it eventually became the common way of speaking in the south of England.

Spelling differences

British and American English have some spelling differences. The common ones are presented in the table below.

| British English | American English |
|---|---|
| -oe-/-ae- (e.g. anaemia, diarrhoea, encyclopaedia) | -e- (e.g. anemia, diarrhea, encyclopedia) |
| -t (e.g. burnt, dreamt, leapt) | -ed (e.g. burned, dreamed, leaped) |
| -ence (e.g. defence, offence, licence) | -ense (defense, offense, license) |

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|---|---|
| -ell- (e.g. cancelled, jeweller, marvellous) | -el- (e.g. canceled, jeweler, marvelous) |
| -ise (e.g. appetiser, familiarise, organise) | -ize (e.g. appetizer, familiarize, organize) |
| -l- (e.g. enrol, fulfil, skilful) | -ll- (e.g. enroll, fulfill, skillfull) |
| -ogue (e.g. analogue, monologue, catalogue) | -og (e.g. analog, monolog, catalog)<br>*Note that American English also recognizes words spelled with –ogue |
| -ou (e.g. colour, behaviour, mould) | -o (e.g. color, behavior, mold) |
| -re (e.g. metre, fibre, centre) | -er (e.g. meter, fiber, center) |
| -y- (e.g. tyre) | -i- (e.g. tire) |

Vocabulary differences

The Americans and the British also have some words that differ from each other. The table below lists some of the everyday objects that have different names, depending on what form of English you are using.

| British English | American English |
|---|---|
| trousers | pants |

| | |
|---|---|
| flat | apartment |
| bonnet (the front of the car) | hood |
| boot (the back of the car) | trunk |
| lorry | truck |
| university | college |
| holiday | vacation |
| jumper | sweater |
| crisps | chips |
| chips | French fries |
| trainers | sneakers |
| fizzy drink | soda |
| postbox | mailbox |

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| | |
|---|---|
| biscuit | cookie |
| chemist | drugstore |
| shop | store |
| football | soccer |

Grammar differences

Aside from spelling and vocabulary, there are certain grammar differences between British and American English. For instance, in American English, collective nouns are considered singular (e.g. The band is playing). In contrast, collective nouns can be either singular or plural in British English, although the plural form is most often used (e.g. The band are playing).

The British are also more likely to use formal speech, such as ‘shall’, whereas Americans favour the more informal ‘will’ or ‘should’.

Americans, however, continue to use ‘gotten’ as the past participle of ‘get’, which the British have long since dropped in favour of ‘got’.

‘Needn’t’, which is commonly used in British English, is rarely, if at all used in American English. In its place is ‘don’t need to’.

In British English, ‘at’ is the preposition in relation to time and place. However, in American English, ‘on’ is used instead of the former and ‘in’ for the latter.

Final point

While there may be certain differences between British and American English, the key takeaway is that the two have more similarities. Accidentally using one instead of the other will not automatically lead to miscommunication. Americans and Brits can usually

communicate with each other without too much difficulty, so don’t be too hard on yourself if you are unable to memorise the nuances of both languages.

of

# Unit III

Speech production is the process by which thoughts are translated into speech. This includes the selection of words, the organization of relevant grammatical forms, and then the articulation of the resulting sounds by the motor system using the vocal apparatus. Speech production can be spontaneous such as when a person creates the words of a conversation, reactive such as when they name a picture or read aloud a written word, or imitative, such as in speech repetition. Speech production is not the same as language production since language can also be produced manually by signs.

In ordinary fluent conversation people pronounce roughly four syllables, ten or twelve phonemes and two to three words out of their vocabulary (that can contain 10 to 100 thousand words) each second. Errors in speech production are relatively rare occurring at a rate of about once in every 900 words in spontaneous speech.[2] Words that are commonly spoken or learned early in life or easily imagined are quicker to say than ones that are rarely said, learnt later in life, or are abstract.

Normally speech is created with pulmonary pressure provided by the lungs that generates sound by phonation through the glottis in the larynx that then is modified by the vocal tract into different vowels and consonants. However speech production can occur without the use of the lungs and glottis in alaryngeal speech by using the upper parts of the vocal tract. An example of such alaryngeal speech is Donald Duck talk.

The vocal production of speech may be associated with the production of hand gestures that act to enhance the comprehensibility of what is being said.

The development of speech production throughout an individual's life starts from an infant's first babble and is transformed into fully developed speech by the age of five. The first stage of speech doesn't occur until around age one (holophrastic phase). Between the ages of one and a half and two and a half the infant can produce short sentences (telegraphic phase). After two and a half years the infant develops systems of lemmas used in speech production. Around four or five the child's lemmas are largely increased; this enhances the child's production of correct speech and they can now produce speech like an adult. An adult now develops speech in four stages: Activation of lexical concepts, select lemmas

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needed, morphologically and phonologically encode speech, and the word is phonetically encode

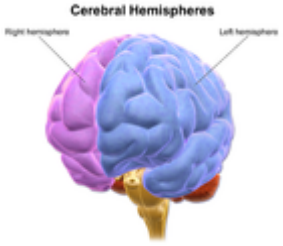
Three stages

The production of spoken language involves three major levels of processing: conceptualization, formulation, and articulation.

The first is the processes of conceptualization or conceptual preparation, in which the intention to create speech links a desired concept to the particular spoken words to be expressed. Here the preverbal intended messages are formulated that specify the concepts to be expressed.

The second stage is formulation in which the linguistic form required for the expression of the desired message is created. Formulation includes grammatical encoding, morpho-phonological encoding, and phonetic encoding. Grammatical encoding is the process of selecting the appropriate syntactic word or lemma. The selected lemma then activates the appropriate syntactic frame for the conceptualized message. Morpho-phonological encoding is the process of breaking words down into syllables to be produced in overt speech. Syllabification is dependent on the preceding and proceeding words, for instance: *I-com-pre-hend* vs. *I-com-pre-hen-dit*. The final part of the formulation stage is phonetic encoding. This involves the activation of articulatory gestures dependent on the syllables selected in the morpho-phonological process, creating an articulatory score as the utterance is pieced together and the order of movements of the vocal apparatus is completed.

The third stage of speech production is articulation, which is the execution of the articulatory score by the lungs, glottis, larynx, tongue, lips, jaw and other parts of the vocal apparatus resulting in speech.[8][10]



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For right handed people, the majority of speech production activity occurs in the left cerebral hemisphere.

Neuroscience

The motor control for speech production in right handed people depends mostly upon areas in the left cerebral hemisphere. These areas include the bilateral supplementary motor area, the left posterior inferior frontal gyrus, the left insula, the left primary motor cortex and temporal cortex. There are also subcortical areas involved such as the basal ganglia and cerebellumThe cerebellum aids the sequencing of speech syllables into fast, smooth and rhythmically organized words and longer utterances.

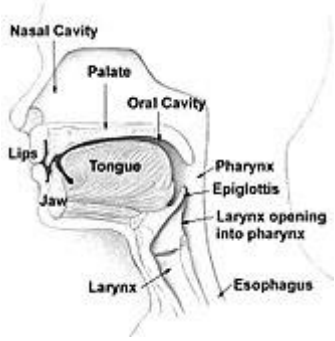
Disorders

Speech production can be affected by several disorders:

| | | |
|---|---|---|
| Aphasia | Developmental verbal dyspraxia | Speech disorder |
| Anomic aphasia | Dysprosody | Speech error |
| Apraxia of speech | Infantile speech | Speech sound disorder |
| Aprosodia | Lisp | Spoonerism |
| Auditory processing disorder | Malapropism | Stuttering |
| Cluttering | Mispronunciation | |

Places of articulation

*Main article: Place of articulation*



of

Human vocal apparatus used to produce speech

The physical structure of the human nose, throat, and vocal cords allows for the productions of many unique sounds, these areas can be further broken down into places of articulation. Different sounds are produced in different areas, and with different muscles and breathing techniques. Our ability to utilize these skills to create the various sounds needed to communicate effectively is essential to our speech production. Speech is a psychomotor activity. Speech between two people is a conversation - they can be casual, formal, factual, or transactional, and the language structure/ narrative genre employed differs depending upon the context. Affect is a significant factor that controls speech, manifestations that disrupt memory in language use due to affect include feelings of tension, states of apprehension, as well as physical signs like nausea. Language level manifestations that affect brings could be observed with the speaker's hesitations, repetitions, false starts, incompletion, syntactic blends, etc. Difficulties in manner of articulation can contribute to speech difficulties and impediments. It is suggested that infants are capable of making the entire spectrum of possible vowel and consonant sounds. IPA has created a system for understanding and categorizing all possible speech sounds, which includes information about the way in which the sound is produced, and where the sounds is produced. This is extremely useful in the understanding of speech production because speech can be transcribed based on sounds rather than spelling, which may be misleading depending on the language being spoken. Average speaking rates are in the 120 to 150 words per minute (wpm) range, and same is the recommended guidelines for recording audiobooks. As people grow accustomed to a particular language they are prone to lose not only the ability to produce certain speech sounds, but also to distinguish between these sounds.

Articulation

Articulation, often associated with speech production, is how people physically produce speech sounds. For people who speak fluently, articulation is automatic and allows 15 speech sounds to be produced per second.

An effective articulation of speech include the following elements – fluency, complexity, accuracy, and comprehensibility.

Fluency: Is the ability to communicate an intended message, or to affect the listener in the way that is intended by the speaker. While accurate use of language is a component in this

ability, over-attention to accuracy may actually inhibit the development of fluency. Fluency involves constructing coherent utterances and stretches of speech, to respond and to speak without undue hesitation (limited use of fillers such as uh, er, eh, like, you know). It also involves the ability to use strategies such as simplification and gestures to aid communication. Fluency involves use of relevant information, appropriate vocabulary and syntax.

Complexity: Speech where the message is communicated precisely. Ability to adjust the message or negotiate the control of conversation according to the responses of the listener, and use subordination and clausal forms appropriate per the roles and relationship between the speakers. It includes the use of sociolinguistic knowledge – the skills required to communicate effectively across cultures; the norms, the knowledge of what is appropriate to say in what situations and to whom.

Accuracy: This refers to the use of proper and advanced grammar; subject-verb agreement; word order; and word form (excited/exciting), as well as appropriate word choice in spoken language. It is also the ability to self-correct during discourse, to clarify or modify spoken language for grammatical accuracy.

Comprehensibility: This is the ability to be understood by others, it is related with the sound of the language. There are three components that influence one's comprehensibility and they are: *Pronunciation* – saying the sounds of words correctly; *Intonation* – applying proper stress on words and syllables, using rising and falling pitch to indicate questions or statements, using voice to indicate emotion or emphasis, speaking with an appropriate rhythm; and *Enunciation* – speaking clearly at an appropriate pace, with effective articulation of words and phrases and appropriate volume.

Description of Speech Sounds

Speech Sounds:

Looking toward the classification and description of speech sound - at how speech sounds are produced. We considered the functions the different organs of speech perform in the production of speech sounds. We shall now discuss how speech sounds can be described and classified.

Normally, when we produce a speech sound, we intend to transmit it so that it is heard. As such, therefore, a speech sound can be studied at three stages - the production stage, the transmission stage and the reception stage. Correspondingly, we can describe and classify a speech sound in articulatory terms, acoustic terms and auditory terms, respectively.

In other, words, we can describe how the movements of the speech organs modify the air from the lungs in order to produce a given sound (articulatory terms), the physical properties a sound has (acoustic terms) and the features of the sound that are perceived by the listener (auditory terms). Clearly, a complete and exhaustive description of a sound which takes into account articulatory, acoustic and auditory terms would be very complex and cannot be dealt with at this stage. Therefore, we shall, for the present concentrate on the description and classifications of sounds mainly in articulatory terms and partly in auditory terms. The sounds regarded as 'vowels' are described in articulatory terms and on the basis of auditory impressions, and those regarded as 'consonants' are best described in terms of their articulation.

Vowel and Consonant:

Before we proceed with the description and classification of speech sounds, we need to understand the categories - 'vowel' and 'consonant' and try and define them satisfactorily.

Vowel and Consonant are popularly defined with reference to the letters of the alphabet. Thus the letters a, e, i, o, u are called 'vowels' and the rest are 'consonants'. This definition is misleading because 'vowel' and 'consonant' are essentially cate glories of speech sounds. When we label the letters of the alphabet as 'wow' and 'consonant' we probably do it on the basis of the assumption that there is perfect correspondence between the letters and the sounds they stand for. This Correspondence, unfortunately, is not perfect in any language, least of all in English.

'Vowel' and 'Consonant' are also defined in phonetic and linguistic terms. When we define them in phonetic terms, we do so with reference to their production, when we define them in linguistic terms we refer to their function in a given language. In phonetic terms, a vowel is a sound for whose production the oral passage is unobstructed, so that the air can flow from the lungs to the lips and beyond without being stopped, without having to squeeze through a narrow construction, which would cause audible friction.

A consonant, on the other hand, is a sound for whose production the air current is completely stopped, or is forced through a narrow constriction which causes audible friction. Let us look at a few examples. For instance the English word 'bar'. The vowel represented by the letters 'ar', is produced with the mouth wide open and the tongue low in the mouth. The air passage is unobstructed and the air, passes into the atmosphere outside without any friction. The sound is therefore called a vowel. The sound represented by the letter 'b' is produced by a complete closure of the oral passage of air at the two lips, and then the sudden release of the air held behind the closure. Thus, there is an obstruction, for a while, to the flow of air from the lungs. Because of this obstruction the resultant sound is regarded as a consonant.

Take for instance, the English word see. The sound represented by the letter 'see' is produced by raising the front of the tongue fairly high, so that the passage between the tongue and the hard palate is fairly narrow but not narrow enough to cause any audible friction in the sound produced. The sound is therefore, regarded as a vowel. In the production of the s-sound in the English word see, the tip and blade of the tongue rise so high towards the teeth ridge that the passage of air is very narrow and the air passes out with audible friction. Thus the sound is a consonant

As we have just seen, the phonetic definition of 'vowel' and 'consonant' does not depend on any other criteria, nor does it depend on the rules of any particular language. But if we describe 'vowel' and 'consonant' in linguistic terms, then we need to study the function of a sound in a given language. Let us take the initial sounds in the English words yell and wind. In the production of these sounds there is no obstruction to the air flow and no narrowing to cause audible friction. The two sounds, in phonetic terms must therefore be regarded as vowels. But the English language regards them as consonants, because they function as consonants. They always occupy the position of consonants in English words, and take the article a, rather then 'an' before them unlike English vowels. Thus we get a yell, a wind not an yell or an wind.

Having classified sounds into the two broad categories of 'vowel' and 'consonant we shall further sub-classify each category in the next two units. But before we do so let us revise what we have talked about in this unit.

Conclusion:

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In this Unit we have described the functions of the organs of speech that comprise the three systems, i.e. the Respiratory system, the Phonatory system and the Articulatory system of the Speech Mechanism. We have seen that each of these organs has an important role to play in the production of speech sounds.

We have seen that a speech sound can be studied at the production stage, the transmission stage and the reception stage. Corresponding to these stages a speech sound can be classified and described in articulatory terms, acoustic terms and auditory terms. However, it would not be possible at this stage to describe speech sounds in terms of all these three. For the present it would suffice to describe certain sounds in articulatory terms and certain sounds in auditory as well as articulatory terms.

Rhythm, Intonation, and Stress in English

Intonation is the 'music' of the language. It speaks about the pitch, pattern, or melody of the words in a given sentence. Intonation enables us to know the underlying meaning of the sentence because of its varying pitch. It also shows different emotions like surprise, confusion, and etc.

To fully understood what we meant, here are the different types of intonation.

**Types of Intonation**

**Falling intonation**

A falling intonation describes how the voice falls on the last syllable of the last word. This intonation is usually used in –wh questions- what, where, when, why, and how.

Examples:

*Why are you not busy today?*

*How are you going to pass all of those papers on tim*e?

In addition, we also use falling intonation if we want to emphasize things or we want to be definite or clear with our words or intentions.

Examples:

*I think we locked the door properly.*

*We are certain about this project proposal of ours.*

**Rising Intonation**

The rising intonations can be placed at the end or at the last syllable of the word in a sentence. Yes- no questions use rising intonation.

Examples:

*Are you sure about that?*

*Is this dress looks pretty on me?*

**Fall-rise Intonation**

Fall-rise intonation is the combination of the two prior intonations- falling and rising intonations. The fall-rise intonation how the speaker's voice falls and then rises at the same time in the same sentence. We use fall-rise if we are indefinite or not sure with our words or ideas presented.

Examples:

*I don't like the idea of marriage right now.*

*He thinks it would be okay to start planning next week.*

We also utilize fall-rise intonation if we are doing questions that intend to ask permission, request, or an invitation to someone. Fall-rise intonation sounds politer than using falling intonation or rising intonation.

Examples:

*Would like another glass of wine?*

*Do you want to join me for dinner? It will be fun.*

**Stress**

In phonology, stress means you give emphasis on the specific syllable of the word.

Stress in English is an important variable in sentence making or speaking. At the sentence level, wrong stress placement can change the whole meaning of the sentence and that's

something we should be very careful with. Thus, we will grasp the idea of how stress is being placed in a certain word.

Stress in English placement rules

One word, one syllable

No matter how long or short the word is, there will always be only one stress. Some words have secondary stress. However, the emphasis in the secondary stress is way milder compared to the primary stress. Thus, the secondary stress seems it does not exist.

No stress on consonant sounds

It is important that you know how to place your stress in a word. So, this rule is a vital rule to follow to jive with the tune of the English language. These are stress placements for consonant sounds:

Disyllabic noun or adjective placement

This where you put the stress at the first syllable of the word.

Example:

Noun- PREsent, ABsent, JEAlous

Adjective- PREtty, Adorable, CLEver

Disyllabic verb

Disyllabic stress is a stress that can be found in the last syllable of the word. Usually, this stress implies to words that connote action.

Example:

preSENT, abSENT, aMAZEd

Penultimate syllable

The stress can be located at the second syllable from the end of the word.

Example:

GRAPHic, beauTIful, charisMAtic,

Ante-penultimate syllable

The ante-penultimate syllable focuses its stress on the third syllable word from the end.

Example:

deMOcracy, dependaBIlity, phoTOgraphy

Compound word syllable

A compound word syllable stress varies depending on what type of word it is. For compound nouns and adjective, the stress is on the first syllable. While for verbs, it is on the second or last syllable of the word.

Examples:

BIRDbox, overFLOW, high-FAshioned

## Rhythm

Rhythm is one of the elements of speech that talks about motions. It describes the movements- speech and cadence of the words used in a sentence. Just like intonation and stress, rhythm is an important factor in expressing effective sentence making or speech delivering. However, we need to know the underlying factors that affect rhythm.

We should be aware that rhythm has two elements that are vital in mastering it. Syllables and stress in English are the two elements of rhythm. These two elements are the factors of rhythm that affect in delivering the speech.

## Elements of Rhythm

Stress

Stress in English affects the rhythm of the words in a sentence. If you will place the wrong stress in one of the words in the sentence, the whole meaning of the sentence will be changed and the rhythm as well will be changed.

Example:

of

**Incorrect:** She is preSENT in the program. (The way you read the sentence is fast.)

**Correct:** She is PREsent in the program. (The way you read the sentence is slow.)

Take note, the moment we change the stress of the word “present” the definition changes and the rhythm changes as well.

**Syllables**

The number of syllables in a sentence affects the rhythm of the sentence. Each syllable has an equivalent meter per sentence. If the sentence has 10 syllables then the rhythm is slow and if it has 4 syllables then it is slower.

Examples:

*An amazing teacher has a lot of patience to teach*. – The sentence has 14 syllables and the rhythm is slow but longer.

*The dog runs at the back.*- The sentence has 6 syllables and the rhythm is fast.

We hope you have learned what are rhythm, intonation, and speech in English and what are their individual roles in the English language.

Rhythm, intonation, and stress in English are the three factors in acquiring or in becoming a good English speaker. If you are able to master the speed of how you speak, the intensity of how you speak, and the flow of how you speak, then you are ready to conquer the English word.

# YOGI VEMANA UNIVERSITY,KADAPA

**DEPARTMENT OF ENGLISH**

**M.A ENGLISH LITERATUREAND LANGUAGE**
**SEMESTER - I**

**ENGYVU104: WORLD CLASSICS IN ENGLISH TRANSLATION**
**FOUNDATION (B)**
**With Effect From 2021-22 (Under NEP 2020 )**

## Program Educational Objectives (PEOs)

- To introduce students to the world's best classics in translations
- To generate a broad vision of life by making the students to come to grips with universal problems and varied life situations.
- To make the students to have a feel of excel classics in translations various genres – poetry, fiction, short stories and drama- by a judicious selection.
- It should instil in the students a spirit of enquiry and further exploration.

## UNIT I

**Background Study : Literary Classics: Definitions – Critical Concepts – The Emergence Of Classics – A Brief Survey – Greek And Roman: Homer, Virgil, Aeschylus, Sophocles – Euripides**

**T S Eliot : What is a Classic?**

## UNIT II

1. **Dante Alighieri : Inferno**
2. **Ovid : Metamorphoses, Selections - Bacchus' (Book III), lines from 512-733,**

## UNIT III

3. **Shudraka : The Little Clay Cart (Mricchakatikam)**
4. **Sophocles : *Oedipus Rex* or 'Oedipus the King'.**

## UNIT IV

5. **Dostoevsky : Crime and Punishment. (Penguin Classics)**
6. **Leo Tolstoy : Anna Karenina,**

## Program Specific Outcomes (PSOs)

- **D**evelops sensible response to great classics in translations and find you an analytical skill with a view to achieving a broad, wholesome vision of life.

## Suggested Reading:


- T. S. Eliot: The Critic, what is a classic, Fifteenth Edition-2005, Rama Brothers India Pvt. Ltd educational Publishers-New Delhi, ISBN 81-7581-218-4.
- Dante Alighieri: Inferno Bantam Dell Publishers-New York, ISBN 0-55321339-3.
- Ovid: Metamorphoses, A new translation by A. D. Melville, Oxford University Press-New York, 2008.ISBN-978-0-19-953737-2.


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## BACKGROUND STUDY

**Homer:**

Homer, (flourished 9th or 8th century BCE?, Ionia? [now in Turkey]), presumed author of the *Iliad* and the *Odyssey*.

Although these two great epic poems of ancient Greece have always been attributed to the shadowy figure of Homer, little is known of him beyond the fact that his was the name attached in antiquity by the Greeks themselves to the poems. That there was an epic poet called Homer and that he played the primary part in shaping the *Iliad* and the *Odyssey*—so much may be said to be probable. If this assumption is accepted, then Homer must assuredly be one of the greatest of the world's literary artists.

He is also one of the most influential authors in the widest sense, for the two epics provided the basis of Greek education and culture throughout the Classical age and formed the backbone of humane education down to the time of the Roman Empire and the spread of Christianity. Indirectly through the medium of Virgil's *Aeneid* (which was loosely molded after the patterns of the *Iliad* and the *Odyssey*), directly through their revival under Byzantine culture from the late 8th century CE onward, and subsequently through their passage into Italy with the Greek scholars who fled westward from the Ottomans, the Homeric epics had a profound impact on the Renaissance culture of Italy. Since then the proliferation of translations has helped to make them the most important poems of the Classical European tradition.

It was probably through their impact on Classical Greek culture itself that the *Iliad* and the *Odyssey* most subtly affected Western standards and ideas. The Greeks regarded the great epics as something more than works of literature; they knew much of them by heart, and they valued them not only as a symbol of Hellenic unity and heroism but also as an ancient source of moral and even practical instruction.

**Early references**

Implicit references to Homer and quotations from the poems date to the middle of the 7th century BCE. Archilochus, Alcman, Tyrtaeus, and Callinus in the 7th century and Sappho and others in the early 6th adapted Homeric phraseology and metre to their own purposes and rhythms. At the same time scenes from the epics became popular in works of art. The pseudo-Homeric "Hymn to Apollo of Delos," probably of late 7th-century composition, claimed to be the work of "a blind man who dwells in rugged Chios," a reference to a tradition about Homer himself. The idea that Homer had descendants known as "Homeridae," and that they had taken over the preservation and propagation of his poetry, goes back at least to the early 6th century BCE. Indeed, it was not long before a kind of Homeric scholarship began: Theagenes of Rhegium in southern Italy toward the end of the same century wrote the first of many allegorizing interpretations. By the 5th century biographical fictions were well under way; the Pre-Socratic

philosopher Heracleitus of Ephesus made use of a trivial legend of Homer's death—that it was caused by chagrin at not being able to solve some boys' riddle about catching lice—and the concept of a contest of quotations between Homer and Hesiod (after Homer the most ancient of Greek poets) may have been initiated in the Sophistic tradition. The historian Herodotus assigned the formulation of Greek theology to Homer and Hesiod and claimed that they could have lived no more than 400 years before his own time, the 5th century BCE. This should be contrasted with the superficial assumption, popular in many circles throughout antiquity, that Homer must have lived not much later than the Trojan War about which he sang.

The general belief that Homer was a native of Ionia (the central part of the western seaboard of Asia Minor) seems a reasonable conjecture for the poems themselves are in predominantly Ionic dialect. Although Smyrna and Chios early began competing for the honour (the poet Pindar, early in the 5th century BCE, associated Homer with both), and others joined in, no authenticated local memory survived anywhere of someone who, oral poet or not, must have been remarkable in his time. The absence of hard facts puzzled but did not deter the Greeks; the fictions that had begun even before the 5th century BCE were developed in the Alexandrian era in the 3rd and 2nd centuries BCE (when false scholarship as well as true abounded) into fantastic pseudo biographies, and these were further refined by derivative scholars under the Roman Empire. The longest to have survived purports to be by Herodotus himself; but it is quite devoid of objective truth.

## 20. Modern inferences of Homer

Modern scholars agree with the ancient sources only about Homer's general place of activity. The most concrete piece of ancient evidence is that his descendants, the Homeridae, lived on the Ionic island of Chios. Yet an east Aegean environment is suggested for the main author of the *Iliad* by certain local references in the poem; that is, to the peak of Samothrace just appearing over the intervening mass of Imbros when seen from the plain of Troy, to the birds at the mouth of the Cayster near Ephesus, to storms off Icaria and northwest winds from Thrace. East Aegean colouring is fainter in the *Odyssey*, which is set primarily in western Greece; but the poem's vagueness over the position of Ithaca, for example, is not incompatible with the idea of a poet in Ionia elaborating materials derived from the farther side of the Greek world.

Admittedly, there is some doubt over whether the *Iliad* and the *Odyssey* were even composed by the same main author. Such doubts began in antiquity itself and depended mainly on the difference of genre (the *Iliad* being martial and heroic, the *Odyssey* picaresque and often fantastic), but they may be reinforced by subtle differences of vocabulary even apart from those imposed by different subjects. Aristotle's conception of the *Odyssey* as a work of Homer's old age is not impossible; but if the *Iliad* is the earlier of the two (as seems likely from its simpler structure and the greater frequency of relatively late linguistic forms in the *Odyssey*), then the *Odyssey* could have been created after its image, and as a conscious supplement, once the example of monumental composition had been given. In any case the

similarities of the two poems are partly due to the coherence of the heroic poetical tradition that lay behind both.

The internal evidence of the poems is of some use in determining when Homer lived. Certain elements of the poetic language, which was an artificial amalgam never exactly reproduced in speech, indicate that the epics were not only post-Mycenaean in composition but also substantially later than the foundation of the first Ionian settlements in Asia Minor of about 1000 BCE. The running together of adjacent short vowels and the disappearance of the semivowel digamma (a letter formerly existing in the Greek alphabet) are the most significant indications of this. At the other end of the time scale the development in the poems of a true definite article, for instance, represents an earlier phase than is exemplified in the poetry of the middle and late 7th century. Both stylistically and metrically, the Homeric poems appear to be earlier than the Hesiodic poems, which many scholars place not long after 700 BCE. A different and perhaps more precise criterion is provided by datable objects and practices mentioned in the poems. Nothing, except for one or two probably Athenian additions, seems from this standpoint to be later than about 700; on the other hand, the role assigned in the *Odyssey* to the Phoenicians as traders, together with one or two other phenomena, suggests a date of composition—for the relevant contexts at least—of sometime after 900. A few passages in the *Iliad* may imply a new form of fighting in close formation, dependent on the development of special armour for foot soldiers (hoplites) after about 750, and references to the Gorgon mask as a decorative motif point in the same direction. It is true that the poems contain many traditional and archaic elements, and their language and material background are a compound of different constituents originating at different dates. It seems, nonetheless, plausible to conclude that the period of composition of the large-scale epics (as distinct from their much shorter predecessors) was the 9th or 8th century, with several features pointing more clearly to the 8th. The *Odyssey* may belong near the end of this century, the *Iliad* closer to its middle. It may be no coincidence that cults of Homeric heroes tended to spring up toward the end of the 8th century, and that scenes from the epic begin to appear on pots at just about the same time.

**Homer as an oral poet**

But even if his name is known and his date and region can be inferred, Homer remains primarily a projection of the great poems themselves. Their qualities are significant of his taste and his view of the world, but they also reveal something more specific about his technique and the kind of poet he was. It has been one of the most important discoveries of Homeric scholarship, associated particularly with the name of an American scholar, Milman Parry, that the Homeric tradition was an oral one—that this was a kind of poetry made and passed down by word of mouth and without the intervention of writing. Indeed Homer's own term for a poet is *aoidos*, "singer." The *Odyssey* describes two such poets in some detail: Phemius, the court singer in the palace of Odysseus in Ithaca, and Demodocus, who lived in the town of the semi-mythical Phaeacians and sang both for the nobles in Alcinous' palace and for the assembled public at the games held for Odysseus. On this occasion he sings of the illicit love affair of Ares and Aphrodite in a version that lasts for exactly 100 Homeric verses. This and the other songs assigned to these singers—for example,

that of the Trojan Horse, summarized in the *Odyssey*—suggest that ordinary *aoidoi* in the heroic tradition worked with relatively short poems that could be given completely on a single occasion. That is what one would expect, and it is confirmed by the habits of singers and audiences at other periods and in other parts of the world (the tradition of the poet-singers of Muslim Serbia has provided the most fruitful comparison so far). Whatever the favoured occasion for heroic song—whether the aristocratic feast, the religious festival, or popular gatherings in tavern or marketplace—a natural limitation on the length of a poem is imposed by the audience's available time and interest as well as by the singer's own physique and the scope of his repertoire. Such relatively short songs must have provided the backbone of the tradition inherited by Homer, and his portraits of Demodocus and Phemius are likely to be accurate in this respect. What Homer himself seems to have done is to introduce the concept of a quite different style of poetry, in the shape of a monumental poem that required more than a single hour or evening to sing and could achieve new and far more complex effects, in literary and psychological terms, than those attainable in the more anecdotal and episodic songs of his predecessors.

## 21. Poetic techniques of Homer

Examine three themes that tie together Homer's *Odyssey*

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It can be asked how one can be so confident in classing Homer himself as an oral singer, for if he differed from Phemius or Demodocus in terms of length, he may also have differed radically in his poetic techniques. The very nature of his verse may provide a substantial part of the answer. The style of the poems is "formulaic"; that is, they rely heavily on the use not only of stock epithets and repeated verses or groups of verses—which can also be found to a much lesser extent in a literate imitator like Virgil—but also on a multitude of fixed phrases that are employed time and time again to express a similar idea in a similar part of the verse. The clearest and simplest instance is the so-called noun-epithet formulas. These constitute a veritable system, in which every major god or hero possesses a variety of epithets from which the choice is made solely according to how much of the verse, and which part of it, the singer desires to use up. Odysseus is called divine Odysseus, many-counseled Odysseus, or much-enduring divine Odysseus simply in accordance with the amount of material to be fitted into the remainder of the hexameter (six-foot) verse. A ship is described as black, hollow, or symmetrical not to distinguish this particular ship from others but solely in relation to the qualities and demands of the rhythmical context. The whole noun-epithet system is both extensive and economical—it covers a great variety of subjects with very little exact reduplication or unnecessary overlap. It would seem that so refined and complex a system could not be the invention of a single poet but must have been gradually evolved in a long-standing tradition that needed both the extension and the economy for functional reasons—that depended on these fixed phrase units because of its oral nature, in which memory, practice, and a kind of improvising replace the deliberate, self-correcting, word-by-word progress of the pen-and-paper composer. Admittedly, the rest of Homer's vocabulary is not as markedly formulaic as its noun-epithet aspect (or, another popular example, as its

expressions for beginning and ending a speech). Many expressions, many portions of sentences are individually invented for the occasion, or at least so it seems. Even so, there is a strongly formulaic and ready-made component in the artificial language that was used by Homer, including its less conspicuous aspects such as the arrangement of particles, conjunctions, and pronouns.

It looks, therefore, as though Homer must have trained as an ordinary *aoidos*, who began (like most of the present-day Yugoslav *guslari*) by building up a repertoire of normal-length songs acquired from already established singers. The greatest heroic adventures of the past must already have been prominent in any repertoire, especially the Panhellenic adventures of the Seven Against Thebes, the Argonauts, and the Achaean attack on Troy. Some aspects of the Trojan War might already have been expanded into songs of unusual length, though one that was still manageable on a single occasion. Yet the process was presumably carried much further in the making of the monumental *Iliad*, consisting of more than 16,000 verses, which would take four or five long evenings, and perhaps more, to perform. This breakthrough into the monumental, which made exceptional and almost unreasonable demands of audiences, presupposes a singer of quite exceptional capacity and reputation—one who could impose the new and admittedly difficult form upon his listeners by the sheer unfamiliar genius of his song. The 8th century BCE was in other respects, too, an era of cultural innovation, not least in the direction of monumentality, and huge temples (like the early temple of Hera in Samos) and colossal funerary vases (like the mixing bowls and amphorae in the so-called Geometric style from the Dipylon cemetery in Athens) may have found a literary analogue in the idea of a vast poetical treatment of the Trojan War. But in an important sense Homer was building upon a tendency of all known oral heroic poetry toward elaboration and expansion. The singer does not acquire a song from another singer by simple memorization. He adjusts what he hears to his existing store of phrases, typical scenes, and themes, and he tends to replace what is unfamiliar to him with something he already knows, or to expand it by adding familiar material that it happens to lack. Every singer in a living oral tradition tends to develop what he acquires. There is an element of improvisation, as well as of memory, in his appropriation of fresh material; and judging by the practice of singers studied from the middle of the 19th century onward in Russia, Serbia, Cyprus, and Crete the inclination to adjust, elaborate, and improve comes naturally to all oral poets.

**Cumulative poetic structure**

Homer must have decided to elaborate his materials not only in quality but also in length and complexity. All oral poetry is cumulative in essence; the verse is built up by adding phrase upon phrase, the individual description by adding verse upon verse. The whole plot of a song consists of the progressive accumulation of minor motifs and major themes, from simple ideas (such as “the hero sets off on a journey” or “addresses his enemy”) through typical scenes (such as assemblies of men or gods) to developed but standardized thematic complexes (such as episodes of recognition or reconciliation). Homer seems to have carried this cumulative tendency into new regions of poetry and narrative; in this as in other respects (for example, in his poetical language) he was applying his own individual vision to the fertile raw material of an extensive and well-known tradition.

The result is much more complex than with an ordinary traditional poem. Understanding the origin and essential qualities of the *Iliad* or the *Odyssey* entails trying to sort out not only the separate components of the pre-Homeric tradition but also Homer's own probable contributions, whether distinguishable by their dependence on the monumental idea or by their apparent novelty vis-à-vis the tradition as a whole or by other means. Dialectal and linguistic components must be identified as far as possible—survivals of the Mycenaean language, for example, or words used exclusively in the Aeolian cities of the west coast of Asia Minor, or Athenian dialect forms introduced into the poems after the time of Homer; so must specific references to armour, clothing, houses, burial customs, political geography, and so on, that are likely to be assignable to the Late Bronze Age, the Early Iron Age, or the period of Homer's own activity—at the very least to be taken as relatively early or late within the whole range of the poetic tradition down to Homer. These are the tasks of modern Homeric scholarship. Yet such different forms and ideas in Homer are not conveniently separated into distinct sections of the text, which can therefore be assigned to early or late phases of composition. On the contrary, they may coexist in a single (artificial) linguistic form or a single descriptive phrase. Any member of the tradition, not least Homer himself, may, moreover, have chosen to archaize on one occasion, to innovate on another. One result is that the epics are dubious authorities for the assessment of historical events like the attack on Troy or the status of workers, just as they are ambiguous sources for early Greek grammar or theology. Another is that they are not bound to a single worldview or period or mode of perception; rather, they unite judgments and experiences never seen together in "real" life into a whole that is literary but nevertheless revealing of the underlying structure of human existence.

**The Iliad**

The *Iliad* is not merely a distillation of the whole protracted war against Troy but simultaneously an exploration of the heroic ideal in all its self-contradictoriness—its insane and grasping pride, its magnificent but animal strength, its ultimate if obtuse humanity. The poem is, in truth, the story of the wrath of Achilles, the greatest warrior on the Greek side, that is announced in its very first words; yet for thousands of verses on end Achilles is an unseen presence as he broods among his Myrmidons, waiting for Zeus's promise to be fulfilled—the promise that the Trojans will set fire to the Achaean ships and force King Agamemnon to beg him to return to the fight. Much of the poetry between the first book, in which the quarrel flares up, and the 16th, in which Achilles makes the crucial concession of allowing his friend Patroclus to fight on his behalf, consists of long scenes of battle, in which individual encounters alternate with mass movements of the opposing armies. The battle poetry is based on typical and frequently recurring elements and motifs, but it is also subtly varied by highly individualized episodes and set pieces: the catalog of troop contingents, the formal duels between Paris and Menelaus and Ajax and Hector, Helen's identifying of the Achaean princes, Agamemnon inspecting his troops, the triumph of Diomedes, Hector's famous meeting back in Troy with his wife Andromache, the building of the Achaean wall, the unsuccessful embassy to Achilles, the night expedition, Hera's seduction of Zeus and Poseidon's subsequent invigoration of the Achaeans. Patroclus' death two-thirds of the

way through the poem brings Achilles back into the fight, although not before the recovery of Patroclus' body, the making of new divine armour for Achilles, and his formal reconciliation with Agamemnon. In book 22 he kills the deluded Hector; next he restores his heroic status by means of the funeral games for Patroclus; and in the concluding book Achilles is compelled by the gods to restore civilized values and his own magnanimity by surrendering Hector's body to King Priam.

## 22. The Odyssey of Homer

Listen to Odysseus wax poetic over homeland Ithaca in dramatization of Homer's epic poem Odyssey

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The *Odyssey* tends to be blander in expression and sometimes more diffuse in the progress of its action, but it presents an even more complex and harmonious structure than the *Iliad*. The main elements are the situation in Ithaca, where Penelope, Odysseus' wife, and their young son, Telemachus, are powerless before her arrogant suitors as they despair of Odysseus' return from the siege of Troy; Telemachus' secret journey to the Peloponnese for news of his father, and his encounters there with Nestor, Menelaus, and Helen; Odysseus' dangerous passage, opposed by the sea-god Poseidon himself, from Calypso's island to that of the Phaeacians, and his narrative there (from book 9 to book 12) of his fantastic adventures after leaving Troy, including his escape from the cave of the Cyclops, Polyphemus; his arrival back in Ithaca, solitary and by night, at the poem's halfway point, followed by his meeting with his protector-goddess Athena, his elaborate disguises, his self-revelation to the faithful swineherd Eumaeus and then to Telemachus, their complicated plan for disposing of the suitors, and its gory fulfillment. Finally comes the recognition by his faithful Penelope, his recounting to her of his adventures, his meeting with his aged father, Laertes, and the restitution, with Athena's help, of stability in his island kingdom of Ithaca. (*See also* Greek literature: The genres.)

Homer's influence seems to have been strongest in some of the most conspicuous formal components of the poems. The participation of the gods can both dignify human events and make them seem trivial—or tragic; it must for long have been part of the heroic tradition, but the frequency and the richness of the divine assemblies in the *Iliad*, or the peculiarly personal and ambivalent relationship between Odysseus and Athena in the *Odyssey*, probably reflect the taste and capacity of the main composer. The many-sidedness of battle, the equivocal realism of death in a hundred forms, must have been developed among Homer's predecessors but can never before have been deployed with such massive and complex effect. In the extended similes the strain of heroic action is relieved by the illuminating intrusion of a quite different and often peaceful contemporary world, in images developed often almost longingly beyond the immediate point of comparison. These similes, in their placing and their detail at least, surely depend on the main composer. And yet, beyond such general intuitions as these, the attempt to isolate his special contributions often becomes self-defeating. The *Iliad* and the *Odyssey* owe their unique status precisely to the creative and therefore unanalyzable confluence of tradition and design, the

crystalline fixity of a formulaic style and the mobile spontaneity of a brilliant personal vision. “Homer” implies, above all, this fusion.

The result is an impressive amalgam of literary power and refinement. The *Iliad* and the *Odyssey*, however, owe their preeminence not so much to their antiquity and to their place in Greek culture as a whole but to their timeless success in expressing on a massive scale so much of the triumph and the frustration of human life. Although all literature must be engaged with that to some degree, epic poems are not where one most expects to find it. But these poems rise above the immediate concerns of heroic battle or the struggle against gods and nature or against monstrous forces, and they do so with the help of a poetical language of great simplicity and subtlety, a rugged and surprisingly variable narrative technique, and a nucleus of remarkable tales set around the Trojan War and its aftermath. Their greatest power lies, perhaps, in their dramatic quality because much of each poem consists of conversation and speeches, in which rhetoric is kept firmly under control and the individual characters emerge as they confront each other and the gods with advice, inquiry, request, resignation, and passion. Achilles, Hector, Menelaus, Ajax, Odysseus, and the others acquire a kind of heroic glow that even Greek tragedy later found hard to emulate. That is the result, in part, of the very archaism of these age-old tales, which the special techniques of monumental composition never attempted to conceal; but it also depends on something that overlaps that archaism, namely a sheer mythic quality imparting to these tales something of the universal validity to which all great literature aspires and which Homer achieved consistently and with an apparent ease that must be deceptive.

**Virgil**

**Virgil**, also spelled **Vergil**, Latin in full **Publius Vergilius Maro**, (born October 15, 70 BCE, Andes, near Mantua [Italy]—died September 21, 19 BCE, Brundisium), Roman poet, best known for his national epic, the *Aeneid* (from *c.* 30 BCE; unfinished at his death).

Virgil was regarded by the Romans as their greatest poet, an estimation that subsequent generations have upheld. His fame rests chiefly upon the *Aeneid*, which tells the story of Rome’s legendary founder and proclaims the Roman mission to civilize the world under divine guidance. His reputation as a poet endures not only for the music and diction of his verse and for his skill in constructing an intricate work on the grand scale but also because he embodied in his poetry aspects of experience and behaviour of permanent significance.

Virgil was born of peasant stock, and his love of the Italian countryside and of the people who cultivated it colours all his poetry. He was educated at Cremona, at Milan, and finally at Rome, acquiring a thorough knowledge of Greek and Roman authors, especially of the poets, and receiving a detailed training in rhetoric and philosophy. It is known that one of his teachers was the Epicurean Siro, and the Epicurean philosophy is substantially reflected in his early poetry but gradually gives way to attitudes more akin to Stoicism.

**Political background**

During Virgil's youth, as the Roman Republic neared its end, the political and military situation in Italy was confused and often calamitous. The civil war between Marius and Sulla had been succeeded by conflict between Pompey and Julius Caesar for supreme power. When Virgil was 20, Caesar with his armies swooped south from Gaul, crossed the Rubicon, and began the series of civil wars that were not to end until Augustus' victory at Actium in 31 BCE. Hatred and fear of civil war is powerfully expressed by both Virgil and his contemporary Horace. The key to a proper understanding of the Augustan Age and its poets lies, indeed, in a proper understanding of the turmoil that had preceded the Augustan peace.

Virgil's life was devoted entirely to his poetry and to studies connected with it; his health was never robust, and he played no part in military or political life. It is said that he spoke once in the lawcourts without distinction and that his shy and retiring nature caused him to give up any ideas he might have had of taking part in the world of affairs. He never married, and the first half of his life was that of a scholar and near recluse. But, as his poetry won him fame, he gradually won the friendship of many important men in the Roman world. Gradually, also, he became a Roman as well as a provincial. (The area in which he had spent his youth, the area around the Po River known as the province of Cisalpine Gaul, was not finally incorporated into Italy until 42 BCE. Thus Virgil came, as it were, to Rome from the outside. The enthusiasm of a provincial for Rome is seen in the first eclogue, one of his earliest poems, in which the shepherd Tityrus tells of his recent visit to the capital and his amazement at its splendours.)

**Literary career**

Some of Virgil's earliest poetry may have survived in a collection of poems attributed to him and known as the *Appendix Vergiliana*, but it is unlikely that many of these are genuine. His earliest certain work is the *Eclogues*, a collection of 10 pastoral poems composed between 42 and 37 BCE. Some of them are escapist, literary excursions to the idyllic pastoral world of Arcadia based on the Greek poet Theocritus (flourished *c.* 280 BCE) but more unreal and stylized. They convey in liquid song the idealized situations of an imaginary world in which shepherds sing in the sunshine of their simple joys and mute their sorrows (whether for unhappy love or untimely death) in a formalized pathos. But some bring the pastoral mode into touch with the real world, either directly or by means of allegory, and thus gave a new direction to the genre. The fifth eclogue, on the death of Daphnis, king of the shepherds, clearly has some relationship with the recent death of Julius Caesar; the 10th brings Gallus, a fellow poet who also held high office as a statesman, into the pastoral world; the first and ninth are lamentations over the expulsion of shepherds from their farms. (It was widely believed in antiquity that these poems expressed allegorically Virgil's own loss of his family farm when the veteran soldiers of Antony and Octavian—later the emperor Augustus—were resettled after the Battle of Philippi in 42 BCE. It was thought that he subsequently recovered his property through the intervention of his powerful friends. However that may be, it is certain that the poems are based on Virgil's own experience, whether in connection with his

own farm or with those of his friends; and they express, with a poignant pathos that has come to be regarded as specially Virgilian, the sorrow of the dispossessed.)

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But one eclogue in particular stands out as having relevance to the contemporary situation, and this is the fourth (sometimes called the Messianic, because it was later regarded as prophetic of Christianity). It is an elevated poem, prophesying in sonorous and mystic terms the birth of a child who will bring back the Golden Age, banish sin, and restore peace. It was clearly written at a time when the clouds of civil war seemed to be lifting; it can be dated firmly to 41–40 BCE, and it seems most likely that Virgil refers to an expected child of the triumvir Antony and his wife Octavia, sister of Octavian. But, though a specific occasion may be allocated to the poem, it goes beyond the particular and, in symbolic terms, presents a vision of world harmony, which was, to some extent, destined to be realized under Augustus.

One of the most disastrous effects of the civil wars—and one of which Virgil, as a countryman, would be most intensely aware—was the depopulation of rural Italy. The farmers had been obliged to go to the war, and their farms fell into neglect and ruin as a result. The *Georgics*, composed between 37 and 30 BCE (the final period of the civil wars), is a superb plea for the restoration of the traditional agricultural life of Italy. In form it is didactic, but, as Seneca later said, it was written “not to instruct farmers but to delight readers.” The practical instruction (about plowing, growing trees, tending cattle, and keeping bees) is presented with vivid insight into nature, and it is interspersed with highly wrought poetical digressions on such topics as the beauty of the Italian countryside (Book II. line 136 ff.) and the joy of the farmer when all is gathered in (II.458 ff.).

The *Georgics* is dedicated (at the beginning of each book) to Maecenas, one of the chief of Augustus’ ministers, who was also the leading patron of the arts. By this time Virgil was a member of what might be called the court circle, and his desire to see his beloved Italy restored to its former glories coincided with the national requirement of resettling the land and diminishing the pressure on the cities. It would be wrong to think of Virgil as writing political propaganda; but equally it would be wrong to regard his poetry as unconnected with the major currents of political and social needs of the time. Virgil was personally committed to the same ideals as the government.

In the year 31 BCE, when Virgil was 38, Augustus (still known as Octavian) won the final battle of the civil wars at Actium against the forces of Antony and Cleopatra and from that time dates the Augustan Age. Virgil, like many of his contemporaries, felt a great sense of relief that the senseless civil strife was at last over and was deeply grateful to the man who had made it possible. Augustus was anxious to preserve the traditions of the republic and its constitutional forms, but he was in fact sole ruler of the Roman world. He used his power to establish a period of peace and stability and endeavoured to reawaken in the Romans a sense of national pride and a new enthusiasm for their ancestral religion and their traditional moral values, those of bravery, parsimony, duty, responsibility, and family

devotion. Virgil, too, as a countryman at heart, felt a deep attachment to the simple virtues and religious traditions of the Italian people. All his life he had been preparing himself to write an epic poem (regarded then as the highest form of poetic achievement), and he now set out to embody his ideal Rome in the *Aeneid*, the story of the foundation of the first settlement in Italy, from which Rome was to spring, by an exiled Trojan prince after the destruction of Troy by the Greeks in the 12th century BCE. The theme he chose gave him two great advantages: one was that its date and subject were very close to those of Homer's *Iliad* and *Odyssey*, so that he could remodel episodes and characters from his great Greek predecessor; and the other was that it could be brought into relationship with his contemporary Augustan world by presenting Aeneas as the prototype of the Roman way of life (the last of the Trojans and the first of the Romans). Moreover, by the use of prophecies and visions and devices such as the description of the pictures on Aeneas' shield or of the origins of contemporary customs and institutions, it could foreshadow the real events of Roman history. The poem, then, operates on a double time scale; it is heroic and yet Augustan.

The enthusiasm that Virgil felt for the reborn Rome promised by Augustus' regime is often reflected in the poem. The sonorous and awe-inspiring prophecy by Jupiter (I.257 ff.), giving a picture of Rome's divinely inspired destiny, has a moving patriotic impact: "To these I set no bounds in space or time—I have given them rule without end" (278–279); and again, under Augustus, "Then shall the harsh generations be softened, and wars shall be laid aside" (291). The speech ends with a memorable image depicting the personified figure of Frenzy in chains, gnashing its bloodstained teeth in vain. At the end of the sixth book, Aeneas visits the underworld, and there pass before his eyes the figures of heroes from Roman history, waiting to be born. The ghost of his father (Anchises) describes them to him and ends by defining the Roman mission as one concerned with government and civilization (compared with the Greek achievement in art and literature and theoretical science). "Rule the people with your sway, spare the conquered, and war down the proud": this is the vision of Rome's destiny that the emperor Augustus and the poet Virgil had before them—that Rome was divinely appointed first to conquer the world in war and then to spread civilization and the rule of law among the peoples. As Horace told the Romans in one of his odes, "Because you are servants of the gods, you are masters on earth."

The vision of Rome that the *Aeneid* expresses is a noble one, but the real greatness of the poem is due to Virgil's awareness of the private, as well as the public, aspects of human life. The *Aeneid* is no panegyric; it sets the achievements and aspirations of the giant organization of Roman governmental rule in tension with the frustrated hopes and sufferings of individuals. The most memorable figure in the poem—and, it has been said, the only character to be created by a Roman poet that has passed into world literature—is Dido, queen of Carthage, opponent of the Roman way of life. In a mere panegyric of Rome, she could have been presented in such a way that Aeneas' rejection of her would have been a victory to applaud; but, in fact, in the fourth book she wins so much sympathy that the reader wonders whether Rome should be bought at this price. Again, Turnus, who opposes Aeneas when he lands in Italy, resists the invader who has come to steal his bride. It is clear that Turnus is a

less civilized character than Aeneas—but in his defeat Virgil allows him to win much sympathy. These are two examples of the tension against Roman optimism; in many other ways, too, Virgil throughout the poem explores the problems of suffering and the pathos of the human situation. Yet in the end, Aeneas endures and continues to his goal; his devotion to duty (*pietas*) prevails, and the Roman reader would feel that this should be. "So great a task it was to found the Roman nation" (I.33).

The *Aeneid* occupied Virgil for 11 years and, at his death, had not yet received its final revision. In 19 BCE, planning to spend a further three years on his poem, he set out for Greece—doubtless to obtain local colour for the revision of those parts of the *Aeneid* set in Greek waters. On the voyage he caught a fever and returned to Italy but died soon after arrival at Brundisium. Whether the *Aeneid* would have undergone major changes cannot be guessed; the story goes that Virgil's dying wish was for his poem to be burned, but that this request was countermanded by the order of Augustus. As it stands, the poem is a major monument both to the national achievements and ideals of the Augustan Age of Rome and to the sensitive and lonely voice of the poet who knew the "tears in things" as well as the glory.

## 23. Influence and reputation of Virgil

Virgil's poetry immediately became famous in Rome and was admired by the Romans for two main reasons—first, because he was regarded as their own national poet, spokesman of their ideals and achievements; second, because he seemed to have reached the ultimate of perfection in his art (his structure, diction, metre). For the latter reason, his poems were used as school textbooks, and the 1st-century Roman critic and teacher Quintilian recommended that the educational curriculum should be based on Virgil's works. A few years after his death, Virgil was being imitated and echoed by the younger poet Ovid, and this process continued throughout the Silver Age. The study of Virgil in the schools has lasted as long as Latin has been studied. By the 4th century a new reason for admiration was gaining ground: the store of wisdom and knowledge discovered by scholars in Virgil's poems—for which he was saluted not only as a poet but as a repository of information. This aspect figures largely in the writings of the writer and philosopher Macrobius (flourished *c.* 400 CE), those of Virgil's commentator Servius of the late 4th and early 5th century, and those of many later writers. Allegorical interpretations began to gain ground and, under Christian influence, became especially widespread throughout the Middle Ages. The two main bases for Christian allegorization were the fourth eclogue, believed to be a prophecy of the birth of Christ, and the near-Christian values expressed in the *Aeneid*, especially in its hero, a man devoted to his divine mission. The culmination of this view is Virgil's place of honour in Dante's *Divine Comedy* as the poet's guide through Hell and Purgatory up to the very gates of Paradise.

Virgil's influence on English literature has been enormous. He was Edmund Spenser's constant inspiration for the fanciful beauty of *The Faerie Queene*. The *Aeneid* was the model for John Milton's *Paradise Lost* not only in epic structure and machinery but also in style and diction. In the English Augustan Age, John Dryden and countless others held that Virgil's poetry had reached the ultimate perfection of form and ethical content. There was some reaction against him in the Romantic period, but the Victorians, such as Matthew

Arnold and Alfred, Lord Tennyson, rediscovered in full measure that sensitivity and pathos that the Romantics had complained that Virgil lacked.

**Aeschylus**, (born 525/524 BC—died 456/455 BC, Gela, Sicily), the first of classical Athens' great dramatists, who raised the emerging art of tragedy to great heights of poetry and theatrical power.

**Life and career**

Aeschylus grew up in the turbulent period when the Athenian democracy, having thrown off its tyranny (the absolute rule of one man), had to prove itself against both self-seeking politicians at home and invaders from abroad. Aeschylus himself took part in his city's first struggles against the invading Persians. Later Greek chroniclers believed that Aeschylus was 35 years old in 490 BC when he participated in the Battle of Marathon, in which the Athenians first repelled the Persians; if this is true it would place his birth in 525 BC. Aeschylus' father's name was Euphorion, and the family probably lived at Eleusis (west of Athens).

Aeschylus was a notable participant in Athens' major dramatic competition, the Great Dionysia, which was a part of the festival of Dionysus. Every year at this festival, each of three dramatists would produce three tragedies, which either could be unconnected in plot sequence or could have a connecting theme. This trilogy was followed by a satyr play, which was a kind of lighthearted burlesque. Aeschylus is recorded as having participated in this competition, probably for the first time, in 499 BC. He won his first victory in the theatre in the spring of 484 BC. In the meantime, he had fought and possibly been wounded at Marathon, and Aeschylus singled out his participation in this battle years later for mention on the verse epitaph he wrote for himself. Aeschylus' brother was killed in this battle. In 480 the Persians again invaded Greece, and once again Aeschylus saw service, fighting at the battles of Artemisium and Salamis. His responses to the Persian invasion found expression in his play *Persians*, the earliest of his works to survive. This play was produced in the competition of the spring of 472 BC and won first prize.

Aeschylus

Around this time Aeschylus is said to have visited Sicily to present *Persians* again at the tyrant Hieron I's court in Syracuse. Aeschylus' later career is a record of sustained dramatic success, though he is said to have suffered one memorable defeat, at the hands of the novice Sophocles, whose entry at the Dionysian festival of 468 BC was victorious over the older poet's entry. Aeschylus recouped the loss with victory in the next year, 467, with his Oedipus trilogy (of which the third play, *Seven Against Thebes*, survives). After producing the masterpiece among his extant works, the *Oresteia* trilogy, in 458, Aeschylus went to Sicily again. The chronographers recorded Aeschylus' death at Gela (on Sicily's south coast) in 456/455, aged 69. A ludicrous story that he was killed when an eagle dropped a tortoise on his bald pate was presumably fabricated by a later comic writer. At Gela he was

accorded a public funeral, with sacrifices and dramatic performances held at his grave, which subsequently became a place of pilgrimage for writers.

Aeschylus wrote approximately 90 plays, including satyr plays as well as tragedies; of these, about 80 titles are known. Only seven tragedies have survived entire. One account, perhaps based on the official lists, assigns Aeschylus 13 first prizes, or victories; this would mean that well over half of his plays won, since sets of four plays rather than separate ones were judged. According to the philosopher Flavius Philostratus, Aeschylus was known as the "Father of Tragedy." Aeschylus' two sons also achieved prominence as tragedians. One of them, Euphorion, won first prize in his own right in 431 BC over Sophocles and Euripides.

**Dramatic and literary achievements**

Aeschylus' influence on the development of tragedy was fundamental. Previous to him, Greek drama was limited to one actor (who became known as the protagonist, meaning first actor, once others were added) and a chorus engaged in a largely static recitation. (The chorus was a group of actors who responded to and commented on the main action of a play with song, dance, and recitation.) The actor could assume different roles by changing masks and costumes, but he was limited to engaging in dialogue only with the chorus. By adding a second actor (the *deuteragonist*, or second actor) with whom the first could converse, Aeschylus vastly increased the drama's possibilities for dialogue and dramatic tension and allowed more variety and freedom in plot construction. Although the dominance of the chorus in early tragedy is ultimately only hypothesis, it is probably true that, as Aristotle says in his *Poetics*, Aeschylus "reduced the chorus' role and made the plot the leading actor." Aeschylus was an innovator in other ways as well. He made good use of stage settings and stage machinery, and some of his works were noted for their spectacular scenic effects. He also designed costumes, trained his choruses in their songs and dances, and probably acted in most of his own plays, this being the usual practice among Greek dramatists.

But Aeschylus' formal innovations account for only part of his achievement. His plays are of lasting literary value in their majestic and compelling lyrical language, in the intricate architecture of their plots, and in the universal themes which they explore so honestly. Aeschylus' language in both dialogue and choral lyric is marked by force, majesty, and emotional intensity. He makes bold use of compound epithets, metaphors, and figurative turns of speech, but this rich language is firmly harnessed to the dramatic action rather than used as mere decoration. It is characteristic of Aeschylus to sustain an image or group of images throughout a play; the ship of state in *Seven Against Thebes*, the birds of prey in *Suppliants*, the snare in *Agamemnon*. More generally, Aeschylus deploys throughout a play or trilogy of plays several leading motifs that are often associated with a particular word or group of words. In the *Oresteia*, for example, such themes as wrath, mastery, persuasion, and the contrasts of light and darkness, of dirge and triumphal song, run throughout the trilogy. This sort of dramatic orchestration as applied to careful plot construction enabled Aeschylus to give Greek drama a more truly artistic and intellectual form.

Aeschylean tragedy deals with the plights, decisions, and fates of individuals with whom the destiny of the community or state is closely bound up; in turn, both individual and community stand in close relation to the gods. Personal, social, and religious issues are thus integrated, as they still were in the Greek civilization of the poet's time. Theodicy (i.e., the justifying of the gods' ways to men) was in some sense the concern of Aeschylus, though it might be truer to say that he aimed through dramatic conflict to throw light on the nature of divine justice. Aeschylus and his Greek contemporaries believed that the gods begrudged human greatness and sent infatuation on a man at the height of his success, thus bringing him to disaster. Man's infatuated act was frequently one of impiety or pride (*hubris*), for which his downfall could be seen as a just punishment. In this scheme of things, divine jealousy and eternal justice formed the common fabric of a moral order of which Zeus, supreme among the gods, was the guardian.

But the unjust are not always punished in their lifetime; it is upon their descendants that justice may fall. It was this tradition of belief in a just Zeus and in hereditary guilt that Aeschylus received, and which is evinced in many of his plays. The simplest illustration of this is in *Persians*, in which Xerxes and his invading Persians are punished for their own offenses. But in a play such as *Agamemnon*, the issues of just punishment and moral responsibility, of human innocence and guilt, of individual freedom versus evil heredity and divine compulsion are more complex and less easily disentangled, thus presenting contradictions which still baffle the human intellect.

Finally, to Aeschylus, divine justice uses human motives to carry out its decrees. Chief among these motives is the desire for vengeance, which was basic to the ancient Greek scheme of values. In the one complete extant trilogy, the *Oresteia*, this notion of vengeance or retaliation is dominant. Retaliation is a motive of Agamemnon, Clytemnestra, Aegisthus, and Orestes. But significantly, the chain of retaliatory murder that pursues Agamemnon and his family ends not by a perfect balance of blood guilt, not by a further perpetuation of violence, but rather through reconciliation and the rule of law as established by Athena and the Athenian courts of justice.

Aeschylus is almost unequaled in writing tragedy that, for all its power of depicting evil and the fear and consequences of evil, ends, as in the *Oresteia*, in joy and reconciliation. Living at a time when the Greek people still truly felt themselves surrounded by the gods, Aeschylus nevertheless had a capacity for detached and general thought, which was typically Greek and which enabled him to treat the fundamental problem of evil with singular honesty and success.

24.

25. **The plays of Aeschylus**

***Persians***

One of a trilogy of unconnected tragedies presented in 472 BC, *Persians* (Greek *Persai*) is unique among surviving tragedies in that it dramatizes recent history rather than events from

the distant age of mythical heroes. The play treats the decisive repulse of the Persians from Greece in 480, in particular their defeat at the Battle of Salamis. The play is set in the Persian capital, where a messenger brings news to the Persian queen of the disaster at Salamis. After attributing the defeat of Persia to both Greek independence and bravery and to the gods' punishment of Persian folly for going outside the bounds of Asia, the play ends with the return of the broken and humiliated Persian king, Xerxes.

***Seven Against Thebes***

This is the third and only surviving play of a connected trilogy, presented in 467 BC, that dealt with the impious transgressions of Laius and the doom subsequently inflicted upon his descendants. The first play seems to have shown how Laius, king of Thebes, had a son despite the prohibition of the oracle of the god Apollo. In the second play it appears that that son, Oedipus, killed his father and laid a curse on his own two sons, Eteocles and Polyneices. In *Seven Against Thebes* (Greek *Hepta epi Thēbais*) Eteocles is shown leading the defense of the city of Thebes against an invading army led by his brother Polyneices and six chieftains from the south of Greece who are bent on placing Polyneices on the Theban throne. Eteocles assigns defenders to each of six of the seven gates of Thebes; but he insists on fighting at the seventh gate, where his opponent will be Polyneices. There the brothers kill each other, and the Theban royal family is thus exterminated, bringing to an end the horrors set in motion by Laius' defiance of the gods.

***Suppliants***

This is the first and only surviving play of a trilogy probably put on in 463. It was long believed by scholars that *Suppliants* (Greek *Hiketides*; Latin *Supplices*) was one of Aeschylus' earliest plays because of its archaic structure; its chorus, representing the daughters of Danaus (the Danaïds), takes the leading role in the action. But there is now evidence that the trilogy of which *Suppliants* formed a part was produced in competition with Sophocles, who is first known to have competed in 468. *Suppliants* thus dates presumably from the middle of Aeschylus' career, not from the beginning.

Born in Egypt, though of Greek descent, the Danaïds have fled with their father to Argos in Greece in order to avoid forced marriage with their cousins, the sons of Aegyptus. Pelasgus, the king of Argos, is torn between charity to the Danaïds and anxiety to appease Aegyptus but nobly agrees in the end to grant them asylum. The trilogy as a whole seems to have favourably stressed the saving power of domestic love as contrasted with both the willful virginity of the Danaïds and the unfeeling, violent lust of their cousins.

***Oresteia***

The *Oresteia* trilogy consists of three closely connected plays, all extant, that were presented in 458 BC. In *Agamemnon* the great Greek king of that name returns triumphant from the siege of Troy, along with his concubine, the Trojan prophetess Cassandra, only to be humiliated and murdered by his fiercely vengeful wife, Clytemnestra. She is driven to this act partly by a desire to avenge the death of her daughter Iphigenia, whom Agamemnon has sacrificed for the sake of the war, partly by her adulterous love for Aegisthus, and partly as agent for the curse brought on Agamemnon's family by the crimes of his father, Atreus. At

the play's end Clytemnestra and her lover have taken over the palace and now rule Argos. Many regard this play as one of the greatest Greek tragedies. From its extraordinarily sustained dramatic and poetic power one might single out the fascinating, deceitful richness of Clytemnestra's words and the huge choral songs, which raise in metaphorical and often enigmatic terms the complex of major themes—of theology, politics, and blood relationships—which are elaborated throughout the trilogy.

*Libation Bearers* (Greek *Choēphoroi*) is the second play in the trilogy and takes its title from the chorus of women servants who come to pour propitiatory offerings at the tomb of the murdered Agamemnon. At the start of this play Orestes, the son of Agamemnon and Clytemnestra, who was sent abroad as a child, returns as a man to take vengeance upon his mother and her lover for their murder of his father. He is reunited with his sister Electra, and together they invoke the aid of the dead Agamemnon in their plans. Orestes then slays Aegisthus, but Orestes' subsequent murder of Clytemnestra is committed reluctantly, at the god Apollo's bidding. Orestes' attempts at self-justification then falter and he flees, guilt-wracked, maddened, and pursued by the female incarnations of his mother's curse, the Erinyes (Furies). At this point the chain of vengeance seems interminable.

*Eumenides,* the title of the third play, means "The Kind Goddesses." The play opens at the shrine of Apollo at Delphi, where Orestes has taken sanctuary from the Furies. At the command of the Delphic oracle, Orestes journeys to Athens to stand trial for his matricide. There the goddess Athena organizes a trial with a jury of citizens. The Furies are his accusers, while Apollo defends him. The jury divides evenly in its vote and Athena casts the tie-breaking vote for Orestes' acquittal. The Furies then turn their vengeful resentment against the city itself, but Athena persuades them, in return for a home and cult, to bless Athens instead and reside there as the "Kind Goddesses" of the play's title. The trilogy thus ends with the cycle of retributive bloodshed ended and supplanted by the rule of law and the justice of the state.

***Prometheus Bound***

The date of this play (and even its authorship) is disputed, but many scholars regard it as a work of Aeschylus' last years. In *Prometheus Bound* (Greek *Promētheus desmōtēs*) the god Prometheus, who in defiance of Zeus has saved mankind and given them fire, is chained to a remote crag as a punishment ordered by the king of the gods. Despite his isolation Prometheus is visited by the ancient god Oceanus, by a chorus of Oceanus' daughters, by the "cow-headed" Io (another victim of Zeus), and finally by the god Hermes, who vainly demands from Prometheus his knowledge of a secret that could threaten Zeus's power. After refusing to reveal his secret, Prometheus is cast into the underworld for further torture. The drama of the play lies in the clash between the irresistible power of Zeus and the immovable will of Prometheus, who has been rendered still more stubborn by Io's misfortunes at the hands of Zeus. The most striking and controversial aspect of the play is its depiction of Zeus as a tyrant. Prometheus himself has proved to be for later ages an archetypal figure of defiance against tyrannical power, a role exemplified in Percy Bysshe Shelley's poem *Prometheus Unbound* (1820)

Some scholars and writers use the terms "classical" and "classic" interchangeably when it comes to literature. However, each term actually has a separate meaning. The list of books that are considered classical versus classic books differs greatly. What confuses things further is that classical books are also classic. A work of classical literature refers only to ancient Greek and Roman works, while classics are great works of literature throughout the ages.

What Is Classical Literature?

Classical literature refers to the great masterpieces of Greek, Roman, and other ancient civilizations. The works of Homer, Ovid, and Sophocles are all examples of classical literature. The term isn't just limited to novels. It can also include epic, lyric, tragedy, comedy, pastoral, and other forms of writing. The study of these texts was once considered to be a necessity for students of the humanities. Ancient Greek and Roman authors were viewed to be of the highest quality. The study of their work was once seen as the mark of elite education. While these books generally still find their way into high school and college English classes, they are no longer commonly studied. The expansion of literature has offered readers and academics more to choose from.

What Is Classic Literature?

Classic literature is a term most readers are probably familiar with. The term covers a much wider array of works than classical literature. Older books that retain their popularity are almost always considered to be among the classics. This means that the ancient Greek and Roman authors of classical literature fall into this category as well. It's not just age that makes a book a classic, however. Books that have a timeless quality are considered to be in this category. While determining if a book is well-written or not is a subjective endeavor, it is generally agreed that classics have high-quality prose.

What Makes a Book a Classic?

While most people are referring to literary fiction when they refer to the classics, each genre and category of literature has its own classics. For example, the average reader might not consider Steven King's novel "The Shining," the story of a haunted hotel, to be a classic, but those who study the horror genre may. Even within genres or literary movements, books that are considered classic are those that are well-written and/or have cultural importance. A book that may not have the best writing but was the first book in a genre to do something ground-breaking is a classic. For example, the first romance novel that took place in a historic setting is culturally significant to the romance genre.

# UNIT II

**Dante Alighieri** was an Italianpoet, writer and philosopher. His *Divine Comedy*, originally called and later christened *Divina* by Giovanni Boccaccio, is widely considered one of the most important poems of the Middle Ages and the greatest literary work in the Italian language.

Dante is known for establishing the use of the vernacular in literature at a time when most poetry was written in Latin, which was accessible only to educated readers. His *De vulgari eloquentia* one of the first scholarly defenses of the vernacular. His use of the Florentine dialect for works such as *The New Life* and *Divine Comedy* helped establish the modern-day standardized Italian language. His work set a precedent that important Italian writers such as Petrarch and Boccaccio would later follow. He was instrumental in establishing the literature of Italy. His depictions of Hell, Purgatory and Heaven provided inspiration for the larger body of Western art and literature. He influenced English writers such as Geoffrey Chaucer, John Milton, and Alfred Tennyson, among many others. In addition, the first use of the interlocking three-line rhyme scheme, or the *terza rima*, is attributed to him. He is described as the "father" of the Italian language,[12] and in Italy he is often referred to as *il Sommo Poeta* Dante, Petrarch, and Boccaccio are also called the *tre corone* of Italian literature.

**Early life**

**Dante from Promptuarium Iconum Insigniorum**

Dante was born in Florence, Republic of Florence, in what is now Italy. The exact date of his birth is unknown, although it is generally believed to be around 1265.[13] This can be deduced from autobiographic allusions in the *Divine Comedy*. Its first section, the *Inferno*, begins, *"Nel mezzo del cammin di nostra vita"* ("Midway upon the journey of our life"), implying that Dante was around 35 years old, since the average lifespan according to the Bible is 70 years; and since his imaginary travel to the netherworld took place in 1300, he was most probably born around 1265. Some verses of the *Paradiso* section of the *Divine Comedy* also provide a possible clue that he was

born under the sign of Gemini: "As I revolved with the eternal twins, I saw revealed, from hills to river outlets, the threshing-floor that makes us so ferocious" In 1265, the sun was in Gemini between approximately 11 May and 11 June (Julian calendar).

*Dante Alighieri*, attributed to Giotto, in the chapel of the Bargello palace in Florence. This oldest picture of Dante was painted just prior to his exile and has since been extensively restored. Dante claimed that his family descended from the ancient Romans but the earliest relative he could mention by name was Cacciaguida degli Elisei born no earlier than about 1100. Dante's father, Alighiero di Bellincione,[15] was a White Guelph who suffered no reprisals after the Ghibellines won the Battle of Montaperti in the middle of the 13th century. This suggests that Alighiero or his family may have enjoyed some protective prestige and status, although some suggest that the politically inactive Alighiero was of such low standing that he was not considered worth exiling.

Dante's family was loyal to the Guelphs, a political alliance that supported the Papacy and that was involved in complex opposition to the Ghibellines, who were backed by the Holy Roman Emperor. The poet's mother was Bella, probably a member of the Abati family. She died when Dante was not yet ten years old. His father Alighiero soon married again, to Lapa di Chiarissimo Cialuffi. It is uncertain whether he really married her, since widowers were socially limited in such matters, but she definitely bore him two children, Dante's half-brother Francesco and half-sister Tana.

Dante said he first met Beatrice Portinari, daughter of Folco Portinari, when he was nine and he claimed to have fallen in love with her "at first sight", apparently without even talking with her. When he was 12, however, he was promised in marriage to Gemma di Manetto Donati, daughter of Manetto Donati, member of the powerful Donati family.[15] Contracting marriages for children at such an early age was quite common and involved a formal ceremony, including contracts signed before a notary. Dante claimed to have seen Beatrice again frequently after he turned 18, exchanging greetings with her in the streets of Florence, though he never knew her well. Years after his marriage to Gemma, he claims to have met Beatrice again; he wrote several sonnets to Beatrice but never mentioned Gemma in any of his poems.

He refers to other Donati relations, notably Forese and Piccarda, in his *Divine Comedy*. The exact date of his marriage is not known; the only certain information is

that, before his exile in 1301, he had fathered three children with Gemma. Dante fought with the Guelph cavalry at the Battle of Campaldino. This victory brought about a reformation of the Florentine constitution. To take part in public life, one had to enroll in one of the city's many commercial or artisan guilds, so Dante entered the Physicians' and Apothecaries' Guild. In the following years, his name is occasionally recorded as speaking or voting in the various councils of the republic. A substantial portion of minutes from such meetings in the years 1298–1300 was lost, however, so the true extent of Dante's participation in the city's councils is uncertain.

**Education and poetry**

Not much is known about Dante's education; he presumably studied at home or in a chapter school attached to a church or monastery in Florence. It is known that he studied Tuscan poetry and that he admired the compositions of the Bolognese poet Guido Guinizelli—in *Purgatorio* XXVI he characterized him as his "father"at a time when the Sicilian School a cultural group from Sicily, was becoming known in Tuscany. He also discovered the Provençal poetry of the troubadours, such as Arnaut Daniel, and the Latin writers of classical antiquity, including Cicero, Ovid and especially Virgil. Dante's interactions with Beatrice set an example of so-called courtly love, a phenomenon developed in French and Provençal poetry of prior centuries. Dante's experience of such love was typical, but his expression of it was unique.

It was in the name of this love that Dante left his imprint on the and he would join other contemporary poets and writers in exploring never-before-emphasized aspects of love. Love for Beatrice would be his reason for writing poetry and for living, together with political passions. In many of his poems, she is depicted as semi-divine, watching over him constantly and providing spiritual instruction, sometimes harshly. When Beatrice died in 1290, Dante sought refuge in Latin literature.

**About the Inferno**

Dante's *Inferno* is the first part of **Dante Alighieri**'s epic poem *La divina commedia*, or *The Divine Comedy*. In particular, Dante's *Inferno* is about the eternal fates of villains of historical and literary renown. It thereby examines the vices of human nature and ramifications of tragedy.

*The Divine Comedy* was written approximately between 1308 and 1320. It was revered in literary canon shortly thereafter, with Dante being ascribed the title of "the divine poet." The title *The Divine Comedy* was not used until 1555, and came about this moniker of Dante's. Additionally, his work had great influence on literature in Italy and abroad; it also influenced western theology. Dante wrote this work in Italian using a rhyming scheme called *terza rima*—he was the first to use this technique. It was first translated into English only in 1802; it has since been translated numerous times, including by poets Henry Wadsworth Longfellow and Dorothy Sayers.

***Summary***

*Inferno* opens on the evening of Good Friday in the year 1300. Traveling through a dark wood, Dante Alighieri has lost his path and now wanders fearfully through the forest. The sun shines down on a mountain above him, and he attempts to climb up to it but finds his way blocked by three beasts—a leopard, a lion, and a she-wolf. Frightened and helpless, Dante returns to the dark wood. Here he encounters the ghost of Virgil, the great Roman poet, who has come to guide Dante back to his path, to the top of the mountain. Virgil says that their path will take them through Hell and that they will eventually reach Heaven, where Dante's beloved Beatrice awaits. He adds that it was Beatrice, along with two other holy women, who, seeing Dante lost in the wood, sent Virgil to guide him.

Virgil leads Dante through the gates of Hell, marked by the haunting inscription "abandon all hope, you who enter here" They enter the outlying region of Hell, the Ante-Inferno, where the souls who in life could not commit to either good or evil now must run in a futile chase after a blank banner, day after day, while hornets bite them and worms lap their blood. Dante witnesses their suffering with repugnance and pity. The ferryman Charon then takes him and his guide across the river Acheron, the real border of Hell. The First Circle of Hell, Limbo, houses pagans, including Virgil and many of the other great writers and poets of antiquity, who died without knowing of Christ. After meeting Horace, Ovid, and Lucan,

Dante continues into the Second Circle of Hell, reserved for the sin of Lust. At the border of the Second Circle, the monster Minos lurks, assigning condemned souls to their punishments. He curls his tail around himself a certain number of times, indicating the number of the circle to which the soul must go. Inside the Second Circle, Dante watches as the souls of the Lustful swirl about in a terrible storm; Dante meets

Francesca, who tells him the story of her doomed love affair with Paolo da Rimini, her husband's brother; the relationship has landed both in Hell.

In the Third Circle of Hell, the Gluttonous must lie in mud and endure a rain of filth and excrement. In the Fourth Circle, the Avaricious and the Prodigal are made to charge at one another with giant boulders. The Fifth Circle of Hell contains the river Styx, a swampy, fetid cesspool in which the Wrathful spend eternity struggling with one another; the Sullen lie bound beneath the Styx's waters, choking on the mud. Dante glimpses Filippo Argenti, a former political enemy of his, and watches in delight as other souls tear the man to pieces. Virgil and Dante next proceed to the walls of the city of Dis, a city contained within the larger region of Hell. The demons who guard the gates refuse to open them for Virgil, and an angelic messenger arrives from Heaven to force the gates open before Dante. The Sixth Circle of Hell houses the Heretics, and there Dante encounters a rival political leader named Farinata. A deep valley leads into the First Ring of the Seventh Circle of Hell, where those who were violent toward others spend eternity in a river of boiling blood.

Virgil and Dante meet a group of Centaurs, creatures who are half man, half horse. One of them, Nessus, takes them into the Second Ring of the Seventh Circle of Hell, where they encounter those who were violent toward themselves. These souls must endure eternity in the form of trees. Dante there speaks with Pier della Vigna. Going deeper into the Seventh Circle of Hell, the travelers find those who were violent toward God; Dante meets his old patron, Brunetto Latini, walking among the souls of those who were violent toward Nature (the Sodomites) on a desert of burning sand. They also encounter the Usurers, those who were violent toward Art..

The monster Geryon transports Virgil and Dante across a great abyss to the Eighth Circle of Hell, known as Malebolge, or "evil pockets" the term refers to the circle's division into various pockets separated by great folds of earth. In the First Pouch, the Panderers and the Seducers receive lashings from whips; in the second, the Flatterers must lie in a river of human feces. The Simoniacs in the Third Pouch hang upside down in baptismal fonts while their feet burn with fire. In the Fourth Pouch are the Astrologists or Diviners, forced to walk with their heads on backward, a sight that moves Dante to great pity.

In the Fifth Pouch, the steep in pitch while demons tear them apart. The Hypocrites in the Sixth Pouch must forever walk in circles, wearing heavy robes made of lead. Caiphas, the priest who confirmed Jesus' death sentence, lies crucified on the ground; the other sinners tread on him as they walk. In the horrifying Seventh Pouch, the Thieves sit trapped in a pit of vipers, becoming vipers themselves when bitten; to regain their form, they must bite another thief in turn. In the Eighth Pouch of the Eighth Circle of Hell, Dante speaks to Ulysses, the great hero of Homer's epics, now doomed to an eternity among those guilty of Spiritual Theft for his role in executing the ruse of the Trojan Horse.

In the Ninth Pouch, the souls of Sowers of Scandal and Schism walk in a circle, constantly afflicted by wounds that open and close repeatedly. In the Tenth Pouch, the Falsifiers suffer from horrible plagues and diseases. Virgil and Dante proceed to the Ninth Circle of Hell through the Giants' Well, which leads to a massive drop to Cocytus, a great frozen lake. The giant Antaeus picks Virgil and Dante up and sets them down at the bottom of the well, in the lowest region of Hell. In Caina, the First Ring of the Ninth Circle of Hell, those who betrayed their kin stand frozen up to their necks in the lake's ice. In Antenora, the Second Ring, those who betrayed their country and party stand frozen up to their heads; here Dante meets Count Ugolino, who spends eternity gnawing on the head of the man who imprisoned him in life. In Ptolomea, the Third Ring, those who betrayed their guests spend eternity lying on their backs in the frozen lake, their tears making blocks of ice over their eyes. Dante next follows Virgil into Judecca, the Fourth Ring of the Ninth Circle of Hell and the lowest depth. Here, those who betrayed their benefactors spend eternity in complete icy submersion.

A huge, mist-shrouded form lurks ahead, and Dante approaches it. It is the three-headed giant Lucifer, plunged waist-deep into the ice. His body pierces the center of the Earth, where he fell when God hurled him down from Heaven. Each of Lucifer's mouths chews one of history's three greatest sinners: Judas, the betrayer of Christ, and Cassius and Brutus, the betrayers of Julius Caesar. Virgil leads Dante on a climb down Lucifer's massive form, holding on to his frozen tufts of hair. Eventually, the poets reach the Lethe, the river of forgetfulness, and travel from there out of Hell and back onto Earth. They emerge from Hell on Easter morning, just before sunrise.

# *Metamorphoses*

**Publius Ovidius Naso** was a Roman poet who lived during the reign of Augustus. He was a contemporary of the older Virgil and Horace, with whom he is often ranked as one of the three canonical poets of Latin literature. The Imperial scholar Quintilian considered him the last of the Latin love elegists. Although Ovid enjoyed enormous popularity during his lifetime, the emperor Augustus banished him to Tomis, a Dacian province on the Black Sea, where he remained a decade until his death.

**Overview**

A contemporary of the older poets Virgil and Horace, Ovid was the first major Roman poet to begin his career during Augustus's reign Collectively, they are considered the three canonical poets of Latin literature. The Imperial scholar Quintilian described Ovid as the last of the Latin love elegists.[2] He enjoyed enormous popularity during his lifetime, but the emperor Augustus banished him to a remote province on the Black Sea, where he remained until his death. Ovid himself attributes his exile to *carmen et error*. His reluctance to disclose specifics has resulted in much speculation among scholars.

Today, Ovid is most famous for the *Metamorphoses*, a continuous mythological narrative in fifteen books written in the meter of epic. He is also known for works in elegiac couplets such as *Ars Amatoria* and *Fasti*. His poetry was much imitated during Late Antiquity and the Middle Ages, and greatly influenced Western art and literature. The *Metamorphoses* remains one of the most important sources of classical mythology today.

**Life**

Ovid writes more about his own life than most other Roman poets. Information about his biography is drawn primarily from his poetry, especially *Tristia* 4.10, which gives a lengthy autobiographical account of his life. Other sources include Seneca the Elder and Quintilian.

**Birth, early life, and marriage**

Ovid was born in the Paelignian town of Sulmo (modern-day Sulmona, in the province of L'Aquila, Abruzzo), in an Apennine valley east of Rome, to an important equestrian family, the *gens Ovidia*, on 20 March 43 BC – a significant year in Roman politics. Along with his brother, who excelled at oratory, Ovid was educated in rhetoric in Rome under the teachers Arellius Fuscus and Porcius Latro. His father wanted him to study rhetoric so that he might practice law. According to Seneca the Elder, Ovid tended to the emotional, not the argumentative pole of rhetoric. Following the death of his brother at 20 years of age, Ovid renounced law and travelled

to Athens, Asia Minor, and Sicily. He held minor public posts, as one of the *tresviri capitales*,[7] as a member of the Centumviral court and as one of the *decemviri litibus iudicandis*,[9] but resigned to pursue poetry probably around 29–25 BC, a decision of which his father apparently disapproved.

Ovid's first recitation has been dated to around 25 BC, when he was eighteen. He was part of the circle centered on the esteemed patron Marcus Valerius Messalla Corvinus, and likewise seems to have been a friend of poets in the circle of Maecenas. In *Trist.* 4.10.41–54, Ovid mentions friendships with Macer, Propertius, Horace, Ponticus and Bassus. He only barely met Virgil and Tibullus, a fellow member of Messalla's circle, whose elegies he admired greatly. He married three times and had divorced twice by the time he was thirty. He had one daughter and grandchildren through her. His last wife was connected in some way to the influential *gens Fabia* and helped him during his exile in Tomis.

**Literary success**

Ovid spent the first 25 years of his literary career primarily writing poetry in elegiac meter with erotic themes. The chronology of these early works is not secure, but scholars have established tentative dates. His earliest extant work is thought to be the *Heroides*, letters of mythological heroines to their absent lovers, which may have been published in 19 BC, although the date is uncertain as it depends on a notice in *Am.* 2.18.19–26 that seems to describe the collection as an early published work. The authenticity of some of these poems has been challenged, but this first edition probably contained the first 14 poems of the collection. The first five-book collection of the *Amores*, a series of erotic poems addressed to a lover, Corinna, is thought to have been published in 16–15 BC; the surviving version, redacted to three books according to an epigram prefixed to the first book, is thought to have been published c. 8–3 BC. Between the publications of the two editions of the *Amores* can be dated the premiere of his tragedy *Medea*, which was admired in antiquity but is no longer extant.

Ovid's next poem, the *Medicamina Faciei* (a fragmentary work on women's beauty treatments), preceded the *Ars Amatoria* a parody of didactic poetry and a three-book manual about seduction and intrigue, which has been dated to AD 2. Ovid may identify this work in his exile poetry as the *carmen*, or song, which was one cause of his banishment. The *Ars Amatoria* was followed by the *Remedia Amoris* in the same year. This corpus of elegiac, erotic poetry earned Ovid a place among the chief Roman elegists Gallus, Tibullus, and Propertius, of whom he saw himself as the fourth member.

By 8 AD, Ovid had completed *Metamorphoses*, his most ambitious work, a hexameter epic poem in 15 books. Here he catalogued encyclopedically transformations in Greek and Roman mythology, from the emergence of the cosmos to the apotheosis of Julius Caesar. The stories follow each other in the telling of human beings transformed to new bodies: trees, rocks, animals, flowers, constellations, etc.

Simultaneously, he worked on the *Fasti*, a six-book poem in elegiac couplets on the theme of the calendar of Roman festivals and astronomy. The composition of this poem was interrupted by Ovid's exile,[c] and it is thought that Ovid abandoned work on the piece in Tomis. It is probably in this period that the double letters (16–21) in the *Heroides* were composed, although there is some contention over their authorship.

**Summary**

Ovid begins the *Metamorphoses* by invoking the gods. He asks them to inspire his work, which opens with the creation of the world and continues on to the present day, and is about the transformation of bodies. After this short prayer, Ovid describes the birth of the world. A creator separated earth from heaven, sea from land, and lighter air from heavier air. He then made beings to inhabit these new spaces: Gods and stars filled the heavens, fish the seas, beasts the land, and birds the air. Man was created to rule the world. Four ages followed. The age of gold was a time of trust, moral goodness, and fruitfulness. In the age of silver, people had to work for a living. The age of bronze saw the first wars, but some semblance of morality persisted. In the age of iron, however, nothing is sacred. Even family ties lead to bloodshed.

In the iron age, the gods appear and witness human impiety. In particular, Jupiter visits the house of the Lycaon, who treats Jupiter with the greatest disrespect, even trying to murder him in his sleep. Outraged, Jupiter decides to punish humanity with a flood. Because of their piety, Deucalion and Pyrrha survive. No one else does. Themis gives Deucalion and Pyrrha cryptic advice about how to repopulate the earth: They must cover their heads, let their garments loose, and cast the bones of their great mother behind their backs. Initially, Pyrrha is disheartened, because she interprets this advice as sacrilegious. How can she desecrate her mother’s bones? Deucalion has a different interpretation. He thinks Themis was referring not to their actual mothers, but to the earth. They try throwing stones behind them, and the stones morph into people.

Apollo speaks disparagingly to Cupid, who shoots two arrows in retaliation. The first arrow causes Apollo to fall in love, and the second arrow makes the object of his love, Daphne, flee. Apollo pursues Daphne, but she rejects him. Apollo pleads and persists, and Daphne cries out to her father for help. He responds by transforming her into a laurel tree. Not entirely deterred, Apollo gropes the tree. At this point, Jupiter catches sight of a young nymph, Io, and lust fills his heart. He rapes her. Juno, Jupiter’s wife, suspects something. To throw his wife off the scent, Jupiter turns Io into a cow. But this move makes Juno even more suspicious. She asks Jupiter for Io as a present and sets many-eyed Argus to keep watch over the transformed Io. Upset by Io’s great distress, Jupiter sends Mercury to kill Argus. Mercury succeeds, and Io is eventually transformed back into a nymph. She has a son by Jupiter, Epaphus.

**Analysis**

From the first sentence of his *Metamorphoses,* Ovid makes it clear that he is not writing a traditional epic. He states outright that his intention is to create something new, writing, "My mind carries me to speak of bodies changed into *new* forms". The phrase "new forms" suggests that *Metamorphoses* will not mimic Virgil's *Aeneid* or Homer's *Iliad*. Ovid differentiates himself still further from Virgil by stating that his mind moves him to write. Instead of calling on a muse for inspiration, Ovid calls on the gods. This difference in inspirations may seem slight, but by invoking all of the gods, Ovid insures that none of them get credit. Ovid subtly suggests that this work is all about him.

Ovid depicts a group of gods who are often irrational. In this section of the work, Jupiter provides a prime example of the gods' tendency to draw foolish conclusions. Based on his negative experience with one man, Lycaon, Jupiter decides that all humans are evil and must be exterminated. He fails to consider Deucalion and Pyrrha, two models of piety who prove that not all humans are immoral. Jupiter's other reason for causing the flood is his desire to make the world a safer place for lesser divinities that do not inhabit the heavens: nymphs, fauns, satyrs, and mountain-dwelling divinities. However, this reasoning is also flawed. As the epic continues and we read about the brutal behavior of the gods—Apollo's pursuit of the anguished Daphne, Jupiter's rape of Io, and so on—we realize that the gods don't have the moral authority to police the world. Indeed, the lesser divinities need to be protected *from* the gods, rather than protected by them.

The gods are as immoral as they are irrational. Ovid gets his narrative off to a dark start by introducing the theme of divine rape almost immediately. Apollo, filled with lust for Daphne, attempts to rape her. Even after she is turned into a tree, Apollo kisses her and gropes her bark. Jupiter is no better. He lusts after Io, rapes her, and turns her into a cow when his wife gets suspicious. Jupiter's crime is both more violent than Apollo's and more hypocritical; he commits it directly after flooding the earth to wipe it clean of impious mortals. The other gods are no less hypocritical. They care far more about token gestures of respect than they do about actual good behavior. When confronted with the possible destruction of humanity, they worry only about who will burn incense on their altars. Incense is more important to them than compassion.

# Selections-Bacchus (Book III), Lines from 512-733

**Bk III:511-527 Tiresias prophesies Pentheus's fate**

When all this became known it spread the prophet's fame throughout the cities of Achaia, and his reputation was high. Still, Pentheus, the son of Echion, in scorn of the gods, alone amongst all of them, rejected the seer, laughed at the old man's words of augury, and taunted him with the darkness, and the ruin of his lost sight. He, shaking his white head in warning, said 'How happy you would be if these dispossessed orbs were yours, so as not to see the sacred rites of Bacchus! Now the day approaches, and I see it is not far off, when the new god, Liber, son of Semele will come, and unless you think him worthy to be done honour in your sanctuaries, you will be scattered, torn, in a thousand pieces, and stain your mother, and her sisters and the woods themselves with your blood. It will be! You will not think the god worthy of being honoured, and you will lament of me, that in my darkness I have seen too far.' Even as he speaks, Echion's son thrusts him away. The truth of his words followed, the oracles of the prophet were performed.

**Bk III:528-571 Pentheus rejects the worship of Bacchus**

Liber has come, and the festive fields echo with cries. The crowd all run, fathers, mothers, young girls, princes and people, mixed together, swept towards the unknown rites. Pentheus shouts 'What madness has stupefied your minds, children of the serpent, people of Mars? Can the clash of brazen cymbals, pipes of curved horn, and magical tricks be so powerful that men, who were not terrified by drawn swords or blaring trumpets or ranks of sharp spears, are overcome by the shrieks of women, men mad with wine, crowds of obscenities, and empty drumming? Should I admire you, elders, who, sailing the deep seas, sited your Tyre here, your exiled Penates, and now let them be taken without a fight? Or you younger men, of fresher age, nearer my own, for whom it was fitting to carry weapons and not the thyrsus, your heads covered with helmets not crowns of leaves?

Remember, I beg you, from what roots you were created, and show the spirit of the serpent, who, though one alone, killed many. He died for his spring and pool, but you should conquer for your own glory! He put brave men to death, but you should make craven men run, and maintain the honour of your country! If it is Thebes' fate to stand for only a short time, I wish her walls might be destroyed by men and siege engines, that fire and iron might sound against her! Then we would be miserable but not sinful, we would lament our fate not try to hide it, our tears would be free from shame. But now Thebes will be taken by an unarmed boy, who takes no pleasure in fighting, or weapons, or the use of horses, but in myrrh-drenched hair, soft wreathes of leaves, and embroidered robes woven with gold. But, if you stand aside, I will quickly force him to confess that his pretended parentage and religion are inventions. Should Pentheus and the rest of Thebes be terrified of his arrival, when Acrisius had courage enough to defy a false god, and shut the gates of Argos at his coming? 'Go quickly', he

ordered his attendants ‘bind him and drag him here, this conqueror! Don’t be slow in carrying out your orders!’

His grandfather, Cadmus, his uncle, Athamas, and the rest of his advisors reprove his words, and try in vain to restrain him. He is only made more eager by their warning, and his rage is maddened and grows with restraint, and he is provoked by their objections. So I have seen a river, where nothing obstructs its passage, flow calmly and with little noise, but rage and foam wherever trees and obstacles of stone held it back, fiercer for the obstruction.

**Bk III:572-596 Acoetes is captured and interrogated**

See now, they return, stained with blood, and when their lord queries where Bacchus is, they deny having seen Bacchus, but reply, ‘We have captured this companion of his, a priest of his sacred rites’ and they hand over a man of Tyrrhenian stock, with his hands bound behind his back, a follower of the worship of the god. Pentheus looks at him, with eyes made terrible by anger, and although he can scarcely wait for the moment of punishment, he says ‘O you who are about to die, and, by your death, teach the others a lesson, tell me your name, your parents’ name and your country, and why you follow the customs of this new religion!’

Without fear, he answers ‘My name is Acoetes, and Maeonia is my country, my parents humble ordinary people. My father did not leave me fields for sturdy oxen to work, no flocks of sheep, nor any cattle. I am poor as he himself was, and he used to catch fish in the streams with a rod and line and a hook to snare them. His skill was his wealth, and when he bequeathed it to me, he said ‘Take what I have. Apply yourself to the work as my successor and heir.’ Dying, he left me nothing but water. The only thing I can call my inheritance. Soon, so that I was not stuck for ever to the same rocks, I learned how to guide boats, steering oar in hand, and to observe Capella and the rainy stars of the Olenian Goat, Taÿgete among the Pleiades, the Hyades, and the Arctic Bears, the houses of the winds, and the havens for ships.

**Bk III:597-637 Acoetes’s story – the beautiful boy**

Heading for Delos, and being driven by chance onto the coast of the island of Chios, making shore by skilful use of the oars, giving a gentle leap, and landing on the wet sand, there we passed the night. As soon as the dawn began to redden, I ordered the getting in of fresh water, and showed the path that led to a spring. I myself commanded the view from a high hill to find what wind promised, called my comrades and went back to the boat. ‘See, we are here’ said Opheltes, the foremost of my friends, and led a boy, with the beauty of a virgin girl, along the shore, a prize, or so he thought, that he had found in a deserted field. The boy seemed to stumble, heavy with wine and sleep, and could scarcely follow. I examined his clothing, appearance and rank, and I saw nothing that made me think him mortal. And I felt this and said it to my companions ‘I do not know which god is in that body, but there is a god within!

Whoever you are, O favour and assist our efforts, and forgive these men!' 'Don't pray for us' said Dictys, who was the quickest at climbing to the highest yard and sliding down grasping the rigging. So said Libys, and yellow-haired Melanthus, the forward look-out, and Alcimedon agreed, and Epopeus, who with his voice gave the measure and the pauses for the oarsmen to urge on their purpose. All the others said the same, so blind was their greed for gain.

'I still will not allow this ship to be cursed by a sacred victim to whom violence has been done' I said. 'Here I have the greatest authority'. And I prevented them boarding. Then Lycabas the most audacious of them all began to rage at me, he who had been thrown out of Tuscany, and was suffering the punishment of exile from his city for a terrible murder. While I held him off, he punched me in the throat with his strong young fists, and would have thrown me semi-conscious into the sea, if I had not clung on, almost stunned, held back by the rigging. The impious crew cheered on the doer of it. Then, at last, Bacchus (for it was indeed Bacchus) was freed from sleep, as if by the clamour, and the sense returned to his drunken mind. 'What are you doing? Why this shouting?' he said. 'Tell me, you seamen, how I came here? Where do you intend to take me?' 'Have no fear', said Proreus, 'and, whatever port you wish to touch at, you will be set down in the country you demand!' 'Naxos' said Liber, 'set your course for there! That is my home: it will be a friendly land to you!'

**Bk III:638-691 Acoetes's ship and crew are transformed**

The treacherous men swore, by the sea and all the gods, it would be so, and told me to get the painted vessel under sail. Naxos was to starboard, but as I trimmed the sails on a starboard tack, they, each one, asked me 'What are you doing, O madman? Acoetes, what craziness has got into you? Take the port tack!' most of them letting me know what they intended with a nod of the head, the others in a whisper. I was horrified. 'Someone else can steer' I said, and distanced myself from the wickedness and deception. There were cries against me from all sides, the whole crew murmured against me. And one of them, Aethalion, cried 'You seem to think that all our lives depend on you alone!' Then he took my place himself, discharged my office, and abandoning Naxos took the opposite course.

Then the god, playfully, as though he had just realised their deceit, looked at the sea over the curve of the stern, and as though he were weeping said 'Sailors, these are not the shores you promised me, and this is not the land I chose for myself? What have I done to merit punishment? Where's the glory in men cheating a boy, or many cheating just one?' I was already weeping, but the impious crew laughed at my tears, and drove the ship quickly through the water.

Now I swear by the god himself (since there is no god more certainly present than he is) that what I say to you is the truth, though that truth beggars belief. The ship stands still in the waves, just as if it were held in dry dock. Amazed, the crew keep flogging away at the oars, and unfurling the sails, try to run on with double power. But

ivy impedes the oars, creeping upwards, with binding tendrils, and drapes the sails with heavy clusters. The god himself waves a rod twined with vine leaves, his forehead wreathed with bunches of grapes. Around him lie insubstantial phantom lynxes, tigers, and the savage bodies of spotted panthers. The men leap overboard, driven to it either by madness or by fear. And Medon is the first to darken all over his body, and his spine to be bent into an arched curve.

Lycabas cries out to him 'What monster are you turning into?' And in speaking his jaws widen, his nose becomes hooked, and his skin becomes hard and scaly. But Libys hampered when he wishes to turn the oars sees his hands shrink suddenly in size, and now they are not hands, but can only be called fins. Another, eager to grasp at the tangled ropes, no longer has arms, and goes arching backwards limbless into the sea. His newest feature is a scythe-shaped tail, like the curved horns of a fragmentary moon. The dolphins leap everywhere drenched with spray. They emerge once more, only to return again to the depths, playing together as if they were in a troupe, throwing their bodies around wantonly, and blowing out the seawater drawn in through their broad nostrils.

Of a group of twenty (that was how many the ship carried) I alone was left. The god roused me with difficulty, my body shaking with cold and terror, and barely myself, saying 'Free your heart from fear, and hold off for Naxos!' And consigned to that island, I have adopted its religion, and celebrate the Bacchic rites.

**Bk III:692-733 Pentheus is killed by the Maenads**

'We have only listened to this winding tale', said Pentheus, 'so that our anger might spend its strength in delay. 'You, attendants, remove this man, quickly, and let his body be tortured in greatest anguish, and send him down to Stygian night!' Acoetes, the Tyrrhenian, was dragged out, straightaway, and shut in a deep dungeon. But while the instruments of cruelty, the irons and the fire, were being prepared to kill him as had been ordered, the doors flew open by themselves, the chains loosening without any effort, so tradition holds.

The son of Echion persisted in his purpose, not ordering others to go, but now going himself, to where Mount Cithaeron, chosen for performing the rites, was sounding with the chants and shrill cries of the Bacchantes. As a brave horse snorts and shows his love for the fight, when the trumpeter's brass gives the signal for attack, so the heavens pulsating from the long drawn-out cries stirred Pentheus, and, hearing the clamour, his anger flared again.

Near the middle of the mountainside, was a clearing surrounded with remote woods, free of trees, and visible from all sides. Here as he watched the mysteries, with profane eyes, his mother was the first to see Pentheus, the first roused to run at him madly, the first to wound him, hurling her thyrsus. She shouted 'O you two, sisters, come! That huge boar, who is straying in our fields, that boar is my sacrifice.' They all

rush on him in one maddened crowd: they converge together pursuing the frightened man, frightened now, speaking words free of violence now, cursing himself now, realising his own offence. Stricken, he still shouts ‘Help me, aunt Autonoë! Let Actaeon’s shade move your spirit!’

She, not remembering Actaeon, tears away the suppliant’s right arm. Ino, in frenzy, rips off the other. Now the unhappy man has no limbs to hold out to his mother, but, showing his wounded trunk shorn of its members, he cries ‘Mother, see!’. Agave howls, and twists her neck about, and thrashes her hair in the air, and tearing off his head, holding it in her bloody hands, shouts ‘Behold, sisters, this act marks our victory!’ The wind does not strip the leaves clinging there, from the high tree touched by an autumn frost, more quickly than this man’s limbs are torn by those terrible hands. Warned by such an example, the Theban women throng to the new religion, burn incense, and worship at the sacred altars.

of

# UNIT III

# The Little Clay Cart

## Shudraka

*Śūdraka* was an Indian playwright, to whom three Sanskrit plays are attributed: *Mrichchhakatika Vinavasavadatta*, and a *bhana*. to the prologue of *Mrichchhakatika*, he was a king; according to one theory, he may have been a third century Abhira king. According to another theory, Shudraka is a mythical figure, and the authorship of plays attributed to him is uncertain. In the prologue of the play *Mrichchhakatika*, the stage manager states that its poet was a wise king renowned as "Shudraka". He had performed Ashvamedha ritual to prove his superiority, and immolated himself aged 110 years, after crowning his son as the new king. The prologue describes him as a distinguished wise man, who had gained knowledge of the Rigveda, the Samaveda, mathematics, the Kamashastra and the art of training elephants.

Two lost works titled *Shudraka-katha* (known from other sources. A verse attributed to the 10th century poet Rajashekhara in *Suktimuktavali* praises two writers - Ramila and Somila - for jointly composing a novel titled *Shudraka-katha*.[6] Because it is described as a novel, it was probably a work of fiction. Another *Shudraka-katha*, attributed to a writer called Pancha-shikha, is known from other sources. Based on information from other sources, it appears that one *Shudraka-katha* (probably that of Ramila and Somila) narrated how Shudraka won over a woman called Vinaya-vati, with the help of his friend Bandhu-datta. The other work was a Prakrit-language novel that featured a heroine named Harimati and an old parrot acting as her messenger.

Dandin's *Avanti-Sundari* provides a summary of the various narratives about Shudraka, probably based on these novels. *Avanti-Sundari-Katha-Sara*, a paraphrased version of Dandin's work, states that Shudraka was originally called Indrani-gupta. Although born in a Brahmin family, he became a warrior (Kshatriya) and acquired royal fortune.[8] According to Rajashekhara's *Kavya-mimansa*, Shudraka was reputed as a patron of literature, and presided over a literary circle.[9] Some legends present Shudraka as a ruler of central India. E.g. the *Kadambari* places him in Dasharna, and the *Avanti-Sundari-Katha-Sara* calls him "Malava-raja". Bhoja's *Shringara-Prakasha* also mentions the narratives about Shudraka. Vidyapati's *Purusha-pariksha* contains a fanciful story that portrays Shudraka as an ideal lover.

No historical records mention a king by the name Shudraka The first four acts of *Mrichchhakatika* are virtually a copy of the corresponding acts from Bhasa's unfinished play *Charudattam*. One theory is that the poet of *Mrichchhakatika* simply finished Bhasa's play out of respect, styling himself as the "little servant" of Bhasa. A fourteenth century text attributes *Mrichchhakatika* to a duo, Bhartrimentha and Vikramaditya. The *Mrichchhakatika* is set in Ujjain. It is known that an Ujjain-based poet by the name Bhartrimentha was a contemporary of Kalidasa; the legendary king Vikramaditya also lived in Ujjain. However, identifying these two as the authors of *Mrichchhakatika* is chronologically impossible. Indologist A. K. Warder notes that even the earliest sources that mention Shudraka present him as a legendary figure. Therefore, the existence of Shudraka is doubtful.[9] Some scholars, such as Farley P. Richmond, suggest that Shudraka was simply a mythical figure, and the authorship of works attributed to him is uncertain.

**Sudraka's Mrichchhakatika Summary**

The play *Mrichchhakatika* by Sudraka follows the love story between a merchant Charudatta and a courtesan Vasantasena. Both are passionate about each other, but Sakara, the king's brother-in-law, also desires Vasantasena. Therefore, he stands as a threat to the lovers. He first tries to woo Vasantasena, but when his wooing fails, he forcefully wants to seize her. One day, he chases Vasantasena with his friend Vita and his servant Cheta. Vasantasena somehow saves herself by hiding in her lover's house. She lies to Charudatta that Sakara follows for her gold ornaments. Therefore, she wants to deposit the ornaments in his house to keep them safe. Charudatta agrees and accompanies her to her house. The casket does not last long because Sarvilaka steals the ornaments from Charudatta's house. He does it to free his lover, Madanika, from the service of Vasantasena. Charudatta's friend, Maitreya, gives it to Sarvilaka in his sleep. Hence, he makes it easy to steal the casket. Sarvilaka goes to Vasantasena's house and meets Madanika. He shows it to Madanika, not knowing that it belongs to her owner. Seeing it, Madanika finds it familiar and inquires about it. Sarvilaka tells her everything. Upon listening to him, she suggests he should be a messenger of Charudatta and return the ornamental box. Vasantasena overhears their conversation and is pleased with Madanika's loyalty. Vasantasena asks Sarvilaka to take Madanika with him when Sarvilaka returns her casket.

Soon Sarvilaka hears the news that the king has captured his friend, Aryaka. He keeps Madanika at the merchant Rebhila's house and goes to rescue his friend. None in Charudatta's house knows Vasantasena has received her box. Therefore, Charudatta's wife, Dhuta, offers her necklace as a replacement for the lost casket. When Maitreya gives it to Vasantasena, she pretends to know nothing. However, when she visits her lover, she returns the same box for losing the necklace in gambling. The following morning, Vasantasena finds Charudatta's son, Rohasena, wailing for a golden cart. She fills his clay cart with her golden ornaments and tells him to make a golden cart. After that, she prepares to meet Charudatta in a garden. Unfortunately, Vasantasena mistakenly mounts Sakara's carriage, and Aryaka mounts in place of Vasantasena.

When he reaches the garden, he explains everything to Charudatta. Charudatta happily offers his carriage to the fugitive to get a safe place. Aryaka shows his gratitude and leaves. Vasantasena also reaches the garden. Instead of Charudatta, she finds Sakara. Sakara becomes joyful when he sees Vasantasena and woos her. When he fails, in a fit of anger, he strangles her. He hides her beneath some dried leaves and leaves the place. However, a mendicant sees her and takes her to a nearby Buddhist monastery.

Sakara files a case against him in court. With manipulation, he proves he is guilty and everyone, including the judge, believes in him. After his arrest, the king orders him to execute on account of killing Vasantasena. When the two executioners are about to behead him, Vasantasena appears at the place with the mendicant and saves Charudatta. The mendicant reveals he is Samvahaka, whom Vasantasena once saved by paying ten gold pieces to his creditors. Charudatta saves his wife Dhuta from her death. Sarvilaka announces that Aryaka has defeated the tyrannical ruler of Ujjayini, and he becomes the new king. As a gesture of gratitude, Aryaka gives Charudatta the kingdom of Kusavati and confers on Vasantasena the title of a wedded wife. The guards catch Sakara, and he begs for mercy, and Charudatta forgives him. The play ends with a happy union of lovers and a restoration of peace and stability.

**The Significance of the Title of the Play**

Bharata Muni lays some rules concerning the naming of a play. According to tradition, the name of a prakarana should be a combination of both male and female protagonists. For instance, Kalidasa's play *Malavikagnimitra* is a combination of nayika Malavika and nayaka Agnimitra. Sudraka does not follow the tradition. Instead of using a combined name, he uses a name that bears a metaphorical meaning in it. He chooses *Mrichchhakatika* as the name of his play, which translated meaning is *The Little Clay Cart*. There is no reference to the clay cart till Act V of the play. In Act VI, Sudraka establishes the context of the clay cart. Rohasena demands to have a golden cart for playing. Vasantasena asks Radanika why he is wailing. She says that Rohasena was playing with a golden cart of the son of their neighbor. The boy takes the toy cart away from him and thus, making Rohasena sad. Radanika makes a clay cart to appease him, but he insists on the same cart. Upon hearing Rohasena's condition, Vasantasena pacifies him he will play with a golden cart. Rohasena does not know Vasantasena, therefore Radanika introduces her to Rohasena as his mother. Rohasena asks, "if Her Ladyship is my mother, then why has she put on ornaments?"

He has not seen Dhuta or any other family member wearing costly ornaments. Therefore, he denies accepting her as his mother. This denial of Rohasena points out that she cannot be a part of them unless she renounces her wealth and comfortable life. Thus, Vasantasena removes her ornaments and says, "I have become your mother!" (150). She fills his toy cart with her gold and tells him to make a gold cart out of the ornaments. The clay cart and her ornaments symbolize the simple life of impoverished

Charudatta and the life of a wealthy courtesan, respectively. It is a life where they are sometimes "false in their courtesy on account of their coming in contact with various sorts of men" (112). Her giving the ornaments away is evidence of her rejection of the life of a courtesan and acceptance of domestic life.

**Why does she want to renounce her prosperous life?**

Unlike Charudatta, Vasantasena lives a life of luxury. We get an idea of Vasantasena's large mansion when Maitreya goes to her mansion. Maitreya is awestruck after seeing the wonderful palace with its eight quadrangles and its numerous appurtenances. He feels he has seen the three worlds in one place and comments on it, "I have not the power of speech to praise it, as it deserves, whether it should be called a courtesan's house, or a portion of Kubera's palace," Despite having a majestic mansion, she has no place that a woman like Dhuta enjoys in society. People do not see her beyond a courtesan. For instance, Vita's comment on her exhibits the man's notion of her.

In Act I, while he with Sakara chase her, Vasantasena spurns Sakara's intention. Having seen her rejection, Vita comments on her, "O Vasantasena, you have spoken in a manner contrary to your profession" This points out that a courtesan has no freedom; she is the slave of her men. The lack of individualism is further reflected in her comment on the Madanika's liberty. She says, "If I myself was free, I would set free all my servants from their bondage, even without any money, whatever" (114).

**Mrichchhakatika by Sudraka**

Therefore, she is wearied of such a lifestyle and desires to have a simple life of her own. We see evidence of her claim of individuality right at the beginning of the play during the chase. In Act IV, she disgustingly rejects Sakara's gift of an ornament worth ten thousand gold pieces along with a carriage to take her. This assures that she wants to abandon the prosperous life that she is part of and yearns to be part of a domestic world where she can be a mother of a son and wife of a man. For this, she knows Charudatta is her perfect choice. By surrendering the gold to the clay cart, it is a metaphorical transformation from her flashy life to a life of purity. By proffering her ornaments, she metaphorically gets the status of a member of the family.

Before the incident, Charudatta's allowance to let her spend the night in the interior quadrangle of his home stands for her acceptance in the house. However, it is difficult for Dhuta to accept her as a part of the family. For instance, Dhuta rejects Vasantasena's gift of ornament by saying "my husband himself is my best ornament". However, it is not only the life of Vasantasena blooms but her entry into Charudatta's life also adds value to his life. We can prove the statement by referring to some major incidents in the play. If the exchange of the play had not occurred, then Charudatta would not have helped Aryaka. Since Charudatta helped Aryaka in his time of need, he exhibits his gratitude by bestowing the kingdom of Kusavati on him. This marks the flourishing of his life.

of

We can also interpret the title as a cyclic motion of time. The wheels of the clay cart connote the spiral movement of time. It means nothing in life is permanent, neither happiness nor sorrow. We notice the change in the life of the characters in the play. For instance, Samvahaka's life transforms from a gambler to a Buddhist mendicant who is in search of the ultimate truth. The reign of the wicked king Palaka ends after the successful overthrown of the king by Aryaka. Having discussed two possible meanings of the play, we can assert that the title of the play is rightly appropriate for the play.

#### The difference between Nataka and Prakarana

The first difference between nataka and prakarana is the source of plot construction. The origin of the plot in nataka is usually epics and legends. For instance, Kalidasa's Shakuntala is based on *The Mahabharata*. A prakarana is an imaginative creation of the playwright. Sudraka's *Mrichchhakatika* is one of its finest examples. Unlike Shakuntala, Sudraka borrows nothing from other sources. Instead, he has created a society imitating his society, the time in which he was living. The second difference between these drama forms is the character. In nataka, the leading characters belong to the upper class. The characters are usually kings or royal persons. However, in prakarana, most characters belong to the middle or lower class.

They are mostly ordinary people. The next difference is the language. The characters in nataka use Sanskrit. It is a crucial component of nataka. Characters use Prakrit as their primary language of communication in prakarana. The playwright uses Prakrit because it is the language of ordinary people. In the *Mrichchhakatika*, after the benediction, the Sutradhara announces the name of the prakarana. However, the play does not abandon the use of Sanskrit altogether. Sudraka uses poetic language in some places through Charudatta. The next difference between them is the former has one dominant theme, and the whole play revolves around the theme. Contrarily, the latter has many subthemes or subplots, along with the dominant theme or plot. The subplots in *Mrichchhakatika* are the love story of Sarvilaka and Vasantasena's maid Madanika and the transformation of the monk.

### The Summary of Mrichchhakatika by Sudraka

Sutradhara worships Nataraja in the prologue. Because Nataraja is like a Muse for dance in the Indian context. After the benediction, Sutradhara gives information about the playwright and the play. He informs the audience that Sudraka is an efficient trainer of elephants. Sutradhara is twice-born and has performed upanayana. He also has performed successfully the Ashvamedha (horse sacrifice) ritual. Sudraka is also a sagacious person who knows the Rigveda, the Samaveda. He died in 110 years.

#### A Generous Man

Charudatta **is the hero of *Mrichchhakatika*.** Charudatta is a generous man. We can sense his generosity by examining how he behaves with others. Unlike other masters, Charudatta behaves kindly with his servant, Vardhamanaka.

Other characters express his generosity in different situations. For instance, In Act IX Vasantasena's mother intentionally decides to not recognize the ornaments of Vasantasena in the court. She probably tries to save Charudatta. She states clearly in the court that such a virtuous man cannot do such a heinous crime. When the judge orders the guards to arrest Charudatta, she again requests to everyone release him and pleads, "if my daughter has been killed, well, she has been killed. But let my long-lived one, Charudatta, live". In the next act, the Chandals also delay the act of execution. They perhaps know Charudatta is guiltless and hesitate to do their task. They elongate their task by talking over other things. These acts imply that they have high regard for Charudatta.

**A Less Intelligent Person**

Charudatta belongs to a merchant family, and he had wealth. But **he** lost his wealth by offering his wealth to where he had nothing left. At last, he becomes poor because of his charitable nature**.** In Act 1, we notice Charudatta broods over the loss of his financial status. When Vidushaka inquires about it, Charudatta expresses his grief about losing the attention of people on account of the loss of his wealth. He gives the metaphor of cranes. Like cranes, they came to his house and received what he had offered them. Losing his relationships with friends makes him feel depressed. He cares about extremely and the theft of the ornament from his house reveals this. Instead of caring for the stolen casket, he becomes more conscious of what people will conceive of him. He seems to care for his reputation. At the beginning of the play, he shows himself as an attention seeker. He keeps repeating his status of being poor.

**He has a poetic personality. For instance,**

Charudatta acts like a dumb man. Though he has no wealth, he has not left the habit of offering to others. It makes no sense when he tries to be too generous when he is undergoing complicated times financially. Instead of accepting his reality, he gives the servant of Vasantasena, Karnapuraka, his gifted cloak in Act 2 on account of saving the monk from the mad elephant. The Brahmin touches his body where he should have ornaments and find nothing. He sighs and throws his cloak over the maid. Charudatta probably tries to show off his generosity to others. His past habit of offering things to others whenever someone brings good news to him never goes off his personality. In Act V, Vasantasena's messenger Kumbhilaka informs Charudatta that Vasantasena is arriving at his house. Out of happiness, he says in Act V, "I have never let a welcome announcement go by without bestowing a reward". He still is in a fool's paradise and he is in a state of offering something. He again conceives of giving his ring to the maid of Vasantasena, but soon he realizes he has nothing to offer. He keeps repeating the same miserable situation. But he seems to lack intellect and he himself is responsible for his misery. If he keeps offering even when his financial condition is not stable, no one would consider it an act of prudence.

**His Hypocrisy**

He could have saved himself by telling a lie in the court that the ornaments belong to him after Vasantasena's mother cannot recognize them. But he sticks to the truth. However, he lies he does not know Vasantasena when the judge inquires him if he knows the courtesan. This reveals the hypocrisy of his character. Later, his utter foolish is revealed when he forgives Sakara and lets him enjoy the same status he had before. We cannot accept this in reality. If not ordered to kill, at least, he could have taken off his power so that he cannot harm anyone with his power. He seems unrealistic after they know that a thief has intruded into his house. Instead of feeling angry or upset, his first reaction is an admiration for the round hole in the wall that Sarvilaka has made. He says, "Ah! It is a fine looking hole!" (108) Act III. Instead of becoming anxious, he appreciates the craftsmanship of the thief.

He also shows regard for the thief who tried to rob him. Instead of feeling resentment for the thief, he finds satisfaction "That he went away satisfied" (109), This is the height of the unrealistic portrait of the Charudatta. He is too ideal to accept him in reality. He thinks it is pleasant news, despite knowing the casket of jewels has been stolen. Charudatta refuses to lie when Maitreya suggests to him not to know anything about the jewels to cover up the truth. However, he does not hesitate to tell Vasantasena a lie about gambling. Gambling has always been a favorite pastime and is accepted favorably in society. In fact, we notice the same acceptance in The Dicing of *The Mahabharata*.

He thinks gambling would be a better excuse than telling the truth. He wants to project that he willingly gives the ornament. In theft, his inadequacy, and his manliness can be questioned. Therefore, he does not inform the police because it lowers his status and indicates him as a powerless man who cannot even his house. When she gives him her necklace in place of the ornaments, his male ego does not allow him to take it, even though he has hardly any other way to pay for the stolen things.

**Patriarchal**

His patriarchal comment after the theft in Act III suggests this. "Through the absence of money, a man becomes a woman; and she who is a woman becomes a man, by giving the money!" By accepting his wife's necklace, he thinks his status of being the male in the house will be down. He shows concern for the trust that Vasantasena shows him for the ornament. But he has no concern for that Dhuta's only necklace from her mother. He feels hesitant to break Vasantasena's trust but shows no gratitude to his wife that she has offered her precious jewel only to hold her husband's reputation.

**Ignorance to the Wife**

He has little regard for his wife. Otherwise, he would not be mad after Vasantasena despite being a father to a lovely son and husband to a lovely wife. He does not feel complete despite having a generous and loyal friend and wife. Charudatta is not completely a moral person. In Act I, when Vasantasena is in the temple, he shows his interest in another woman despite being a married man. We do not see any type of

conflict in him regarding whether or not to advance into a relationship outside of his married life. Being a Brahman, he is supposed to have the understanding that bodily pleasure is fleeting and it deviates man from his main goal. He thinks it is proper to be passionate about a woman after having a wife. It suggests he is not a Brahman in its real sense.

**An Abnormal**

Sakara or Samsthanaka is the most wicked man in the play. He creates problems in the lives of Charudatta and Vasantasena because he feels jealous of Charudatta. He is passionate about her and he sees her lover as his threat. He madly falls in with Vasantasena even after Vasantasena clearly states her disinterest. He does not understand consent is important in a relationship. Later, he tries to please Vasantasena by sending a cart with an ornament worth ten thousand gold pieces. For Sakara, one could do anything with wealth. He is like those lovers who think money can buy happiness. For him, emotion and respect have no place in the relationship. Because of his lack of respect, his love turns into hatred. When Vasantasena hits him with her foot, he feels insulted. He immediately goes to kill her. He does not think much before strangling Vasantasena.

His love is dangerous because of his strange behavior. He shows no emotion in killing Vasantasena. The abnormal behavior he possesses is called abnormal psychology. Having killed Vasantasena, he justifies her murder her, "Because she wouldn't accept me who was courting her, I killed in my wrath that courtesan. Seeing that the Pushpakarandaka garden was lonely, I strangled her with the noose of my arms" (179-80). He does not hesitate to strangle Vasantasena and after killing her, he also makes sure he has killed her. If not, he would hesitate to kill her.

**Arrogant**

He is the brother-in-law of King Palaka. He shows off his power in the court. When the judge asks him his matter, He tells him he will whisper in his ear because he is born into a big family. He says, "My father's the king's father-in-law; the king is the son-in-law of my father. I myself am the king's brother-in-law; while the king is the husband of my sister" (189). He is also an attention seeker. He feels content when someone praises him. The repetition of his status as the brother-in-law of the king shows how prideful he is of his status. Sakara thinks everyone should praise him. He considers it an act of heroism. Sakara repents not for killing her but for killing her in the absence of nobody. He feels sad that his act of heroism has gone unnoticed.

**Insensitive**

Unlike Charudatta, Sakara behaves inhumanely with the other characters in the play who are below him in status. For instance, he misbehaves with the monk who comes to his old garden in Act VIII. In the same act, he does not care for his servant Cheta's death if he dies while crossing the cart over the wall. He arrogantly says, ] "I'm the

king's brother-in-law! If the bullocks die, I will buy others; if the carriage is smashed, I'll get another built; and if you die, I'll find another carriage-driver" (170).

**A comic-villain**

Sakara is the comic villain in the play. Though his deeds harm others, his remarks often amuse us and arouse the comic effect. Sakara often alludes to epics that are full of mismatches. He appears in Act I where he chases Vasantasena with the other two men in the darkness. He makes a blunder of his mythological reference and says, "You inflame my love, my passion, my lust, and forcibly deprive me of my sleep when lying on my bed at night; and you are running away stumbling and falling, being agitated by fear, now that you have come into power, like Kunti into that of Ravana" (68-9).

He probably refers to the abduction of Sita by Ravana. It shows that he does not know of the epics like Ramayana and Mahabharata. Because of his ignorance, he often mingles them and uses them. In Act VIII, when Sakara tries to drag her from his carriage, he says, "I shall forthwith drag down your lovely body from my carriage, just as Jatayu did the wife of Vali" (173-74). He again incorrectly refers to Ramayana without realizing his mistake. His lack of knowledge of the epics gives the readers a comic effect amidst the serious action.He has also an odd habit of pronouncing 's' as 'sh', for which his statements often create a comic effect in the play.

**Cunning**

Though Sakara seems stupid at many points, he is cunning. Though he shows no repentance consciously for killing Vasantasena or other misdeeds. However, at some point, he shows a glance at his subconscious guilt. For instance, instead of sitting properly on the court, he sits on the grassy quadrangle. The judge invites him to take a proper place. He says since the place belongs to him, he can sit anywhere and he sits on the ground. He probably thinks he is not worthy of sitting like others after sinning. This could suggest his struggle with his double personality.

# ODIPUS REX or OEDIPUS THE KING

**Sophocles**, (born c. 496 BCE, Colonus, near Athens [Greece]—died 406, Athens), with Aeschylus and Euripides, one of classical Athens's three great tragic playwrights. The best known of his 123 dramas is *Oedipus the King*.

**Life and career**

Sophocles was the younger contemporary of Aeschylus and the older contemporary of Euripides. He was born at Colonus, a village outside the walls of Athens, where his father, Sophillus, was a wealthy manufacturer of armour. Sophocles himself received a good education. Because of his beauty of physique, his athletic prowess, and his skill in music, he was chosen in 480, when he was 16, to lead the paean (choral chant to a god) celebrating the decisive Greek sea victory over the Persians at the Battle of Salamis. The relatively meagre information about Sophocles' civic life suggests that he was a popular favourite who participated actively in his community and exercised outstanding artistic talents. In 442 he served as one of the treasurers responsible for receiving and managing tribute money from Athens's subject-allies in the Delian League. In 440 he was elected one of the 10 *stratēgoi* (high executive officials who commanded the armed forces) as a junior colleague of Pericles. Sophocles later served as *stratēgos* perhaps twice again. In 413, then aged about 83, Sophocles was a *proboulos*, one of 10 advisory commissioners who were granted special powers and were entrusted with organizing Athens's financial and domestic recovery after its terrible defeat at Syracuse in Sicily. Sophocles' last recorded act was to lead a chorus in public mourning for his deceased rival, Euripides, before the festival of 406. He died that same year.

These few facts are about all that is known of Sophocles' life. They imply steady and distinguished attachment to Athens, its government, religion, and social forms. Sophocles was wealthy from birth, highly educated, noted for his grace and charm, on easy terms with the leading families, a personal friend of prominent statesmen, and in many ways fortunate to have died before the final surrender of Athens to Sparta in 404. In one of his last plays, *Oedipus at Colonus*, he still affectionately praises both his own birthplace and the great city itself.

Sophocles won his first victory at the Dionysian dramatic festival in 468, however, defeating the great Aeschylus in the process. This began a career of unparalleled success and longevity. In total, Sophocles wrote 123 dramas for the festivals. Since each author who was chosen to enter the competition usually presented four plays, this means he must have competed about

30 times. Sophocles won perhaps as many as 24 victories, compared to 13 for Aeschylus and four for Euripides, and indeed he may have never received lower than second place in the competitions he entered.

**Dramatic and literary achievements**

Ancient authorities credit Sophocles with several major and minor dramatic innovations. Among the latter is his invention of some type of "scene paintings" or other pictorial prop to establish locale or atmosphere. He also may have increased the size of the chorus from 12 to 15 members. Sophocles' major innovation was his introduction of a third actor into the dramatic performance. It had previously been permissible for two actors to "double" (i.e., assume other roles during a play), but the addition of a third actor onstage enabled the dramatist both to increase the number of his characters and widen the variety of their interactions. The scope of the dramatic conflict was thereby extended, plots could be more fluid, and situations could be more complex.

The typical Sophoclean drama presents a few characters, impressive in their determination and power and possessing a few strongly drawn qualities or faults that combine with a particular set of circumstances to lead them inevitably to a tragic fate. Sophocles develops his characters' rush to tragedy with great economy, concentration, and dramatic effectiveness, creating a coherent, suspenseful situation whose sustained and inexorable onrush came to epitomize the tragic form to the classical world. Sophocles emphasizes that most people lack wisdom, and he presents truth in collision with ignorance, delusion, and folly. Many scenes dramatize flaws or failure in thinking (deceptive reports and rumours, false optimism, hasty judgment, madness). The chief character does something involving grave error; this affects others, each of whom reacts in his own way, thereby causing the chief agent to take another step toward ruin—his own and that of others as well. Equally important, those who are to suffer from the tragic error usually are present at the time or belong to the same generation. It was this more complex type of tragedy that demanded a third actor. Sophocles thus abandoned the spacious Aeschylean framework of the connected trilogy and instead comprised the entire action in a single play. From his time onward, "trilogy" usually meant no more than three separate tragedies written by the same author and presented at the same festival.

Sophocles' language responds flexibly to the dramatic needs of the moment; it can be ponderously weighty or swift-moving, emotionally intense or easygoing, highly decorative or perfectly plain and simple. His mastery of form and diction was highly respected by his contemporaries. Sophocles has also been universally admired for the sympathy and vividness with which he delineates his characters; especially notable are his tragic women, such as Electra and Antigone. Few dramatists have been able to handle situation and plot with more power and certainty; the frequent references in the *Poetics* to Sophocles' *Oedipus the King* show that Aristotle regarded this play as a masterpiece of construction, and few later critics have dissented. Sophocles is also unsurpassed in his moments of high dramatic tension and in his revealing use of tragic irony.

The criticism has been made that Sophocles was a superb artist and nothing more; he grappled neither with religious problems as Aeschylus had nor with intellectual ones as Euripides had done. He accepted the gods of Greek religion in a spirit of unreflecting orthodoxy, and he contented himself with presenting human characters and human conflicts. But it should be stressed that to Sophocles "the gods" appear to have represented the natural forces of the universe to which human beings are unwittingly or unwillingly subject. To Sophocles, human beings live for the most part in dark ignorance because they are cut off from these permanent, unchanging forces and structures of reality. Yet it is pain, suffering, and the endurance of tragic crisis that can bring people into valid contact with the universal order of things. In the process, a person can become more genuinely human, more genuinely himself.

## 26. The plays of Sophocles

Only seven of Sophocles' tragedies survive in their entirety, along with 400 lines of a satyr play, numerous fragments of plays now lost, and 90 titles. All seven of the complete plays are works of Sophocles' maturity, but only two of them, *Philoctetes* and *Oedipus at Colonus*, have fairly certain dates. *Ajax* is generally regarded as the earliest of the extant plays. Some evidence suggests that *Antigone* was first performed in 442 or 441 BCE. *Philoctetes* was first performed in 409, when Sophocles was 90 years old, and *Oedipus at Colonus* was said to have been produced after Sophocles' death by his grandson.

***Ajax***

The entire plot of *Ajax* (Greek: *Aias mastigophoros*) is constructed around Ajax, the mighty hero of the Trojan War whose pride drives him to treachery and finally to his own ruin and suicide some two-thirds of the way through the play. Ajax is deeply offended at the award of the prize of valour (the dead Achilles' armour) not to himself but to Odysseus. Ajax thereupon attempts to assassinate Odysseus and the contest's judges, the Greek commanders Agamemnon and Menelaus, but is frustrated by the intervention of the goddess Athena. He cannot bear his humiliation and throws himself on his own sword. Agamemnon and Menelaus order that Ajax's corpse be left unburied as punishment. But the wise Odysseus persuades the commanders to relent and grant Ajax an honourable burial. In the end Odysseus is the only person who seems truly aware of the changeability of human fortune.

***Antigone***

Antigone is the daughter of Oedipus, the former king of Thebes. She is willing to face the capital punishment that has been decreed by her uncle Creon, the new king, as the penalty for anyone burying her brother Polyneices. (Polyneices has just been killed attacking Thebes, and it is as posthumous punishment for this attack that Creon has forbidden the burial of his corpse.) Obeying all her instincts of love, loyalty, and humanity, Antigone defies Creon and dutifully buries her brother's corpse. Creon, from conviction that reasons of state outweigh family ties, refuses to commute Antigone's death sentence. By the time Creon is finally persuaded by the prophet Tiresias to relent and free Antigone, she has killed herself in her prison cell. Creon's son, Haemon, kills himself out of love and sympathy for the dead

Antigone, and Creon's wife, Eurydice, then kills herself out of grief over these tragic events. At the play's end Creon is left desolate and broken in spirit. In his narrow and unduly rigid adherence to his civic duties, Creon has defied the gods through his denial of humanity's common obligations toward the dead. The play thus concerns the conflicting obligations of civic versus personal loyalties and religious mores.

***Trachinian Women***

This play centres on the efforts of Deianeira to win back the wandering affections of her husband, Heracles, who is away on one of his heroic missions and who has sent back his latest concubine, Iole, to live with his wife at their home in Trachis. The love charm Deianeira uses on Heracles turns out to be poisonous, and she kills herself upon learning of the agony she has caused her husband. Thus, in *Trachinian Women* (Greek: *Trachiniai*) Heracles' insensitivity (in sending his mistress to share his wife's home) and Deianeira's ignorance result in domestic tragedy.

***Oedipus the King***

The plot of *Oedipus the King* (Greek: *Oidipous Tyrannos*; Latin: *Oedipus Rex*) is a structural marvel that marks the summit of classical Greek drama's formal achievements. The play's main character, Oedipus, is the wise, happy, and beloved ruler of Thebes. Though hot-tempered, impatient, and arrogant at times of crisis, he otherwise seems to enjoy every good fortune. But Oedipus mistakenly believes that he is the son of King Polybus of Corinth and his queen. He became the ruler of Thebes because he rescued the city from the Sphinx by answering its riddle correctly, and so was awarded the city's widowed queen, Jocasta. Before overcoming the Sphinx, Oedipus left Corinth forever because the Delphic oracle had prophesied to him that he would kill his father and marry his mother. While journeying to Thebes from Corinth, Oedipus encountered at a crossroads an old man accompanied by five servants. Oedipus got into an argument with him and in a fit of arrogance and bad temper killed the old man and four of his servants.

The play opens with the city of Thebes stricken by a plague and its citizens begging Oedipus to find a remedy. He consults the Delphic oracle, which declares that the plague will cease only when the murderer of Jocasta's first husband, King Laius, has been found and punished for his deed. Oedipus resolves to find Laius's killer, and much of the rest of the play centres upon the investigation he conducts in this regard. In a series of tense, gripping, and ominous scenes, Oedipus's investigation turns into an obsessive reconstruction of his own hidden past as he begins to suspect that the old man he killed at the crossroads was none other than Laius. Finally, Oedipus learns that he himself was abandoned to die as a baby by Laius and Jocasta because they feared a prophecy that their infant son would kill his father; that he survived and was adopted by the ruler of Corinth (*see* video), but in his maturity he has unwittingly fulfilled the Delphic oracle's prophecy of him; that he has indeed killed his true father, married his own mother, and begot children who are also his own siblings.

Jocasta hangs herself when she sees this shameful web of incest, parricide, and attempted child murder, and the guilt-stricken Oedipus then sticks needles into his eyes, blinding

himself. Sightless and alone, he is now blind to the world around him but finally cognizant of the terrible truth of his own life (*see* video).

***Electra***

As in Aeschylus's *Libation Bearers*, the action in *Electra* (Greek: *Ēlektra*) follows the return of Orestes to kill his mother, Clytemnestra, and her lover Aegisthus in retribution for their murder of Orestes' father, Agamemnon. In this play, however, the main focus is on Orestes' sister Electra and her anguished participation in her brother's plans. To gain admittance to the palace and thus be able to execute his revenge, Orestes spreads false news of his own death. Believing this report, the despairing Electra unsuccessfully tries to enlist her sister Chrysothemis in an attempt to murder their mother. In a dramatic scene, Orestes then enters in disguise and hands Electra the urn that is supposed to contain his own ashes. Moved by his sister's display of grief, Orestes reveals his true identity to her and then strikes down his mother and her lover. Electra's triumph is thus complete. In the play Electra is seen passing through the whole range of human emotions—from passionate love to cruel hatred, from numb despair to wild joy. There is debate over whether the play depicts virtue triumphant or, rather, portrays a young woman incurably twisted by years of hatred and resentment.

***Philoctetes***

In *Philoctetes* (Greek: *Philoktētēs*) the Greeks on their way to Troy have cast away the play's main character, Philoctetes, on the desert island of Lemnos because he has a loathsome and incurable ulcer on his foot. But the Greeks have discovered that they cannot win victory over Troy without Philoctetes and his wonderful bow, which formerly belonged to Heracles. The crafty Odysseus is given the task of fetching Philoctetes by any means possible. Odysseus knows that the resentful Philoctetes will kill him if he can, so he uses the young and impressionable soldier Neoptolemus, son of the dead Achilles, as his agent. Neoptolemus is thus caught between the devious manipulations of Odysseus and the unsuspecting integrity of Philoctetes, who is ready to do anything rather than help the Greeks who abandoned him. For much of the play Neoptolemus sticks to Odysseus's policy of deceit, despite his better nature, but eventually he renounces duplicity to join in friendship with Philoctetes. A supernatural appearance by Heracles then convinces Philoctetes to go to Troy to both win victory and be healed of his disease.

***Oedipus at Colonus***

In *Oedipus at Colonus* (Greek: *Oidipous epi Kolōnō*) the old, blind Oedipus has spent many years wandering in exile after being rejected by his sons and the city of Thebes. Oedipus has been cared for only by his daughters Antigone and Ismene. He arrives at a sacred grove at Colonus, a village close by Athens (and the home of Sophocles himself). There Oedipus is guaranteed protection by Theseus, the noble king of Athens. Theseus does indeed protect Oedipus from the importunate pleadings of his brother-in-law, Creon, for Oedipus to protect Thebes. Oedipus himself rejects the entreaties of his son Polyneices, who is bent on attacking Thebes and whom Oedipus solemnly curses. Finally Oedipus departs to a mysterious death; he is apparently swallowed into the earth of Colonus, where he will become a benevolent power and a mysterious source of defense to the land that has given him final

refuge. The play is remarkable for the melancholy, beauty, and power of its lyric odes and for the spiritual and moral authority with which it invests the figure of Oedipus.

***Trackers***

Four hundred lines of this satyr play survive. The plot of *Trackers* (Greek: *Ichneutai*) is based on two stories about the miraculous early deeds of the god Hermes: that the infant, growing to maturity in a few days, stole cattle from Apollo, baffling discovery by reversing the animals' hoof marks, and that he invented the lyre by fitting strings to a tortoise shell. In this play the trackers are the chorus of satyrs, who are looking for the cattle; they are amusingly dumbfounded at the sound of the new instrument Hermes has invented. Enough of the play survives to give an impression of its style; it is a genial, uncomplicated travesty of the tragic manner, and the antics of the chorus were apparently the chief source of amusement.

**Euripides**, (born *c.* 484 BC, Athens [Greece]—died 406, Macedonia), last of classical Athens's three great tragic dramatists, following Aeschylus and Sophocles.

**Life and career**

It is possible to reconstruct only the sketchiest biography of Euripides. His mother's name was Cleito; his father's name was Mnesarchus or Mnesarchides. One tradition states that his mother was a greengrocer who sold herbs in the marketplace. Aristophanes joked about this in comedy after comedy; but there is better indirect evidence that Euripides came of a well-off family. Euripides first received the honour of being chosen to compete in the dramatic festival in 455, and he won his first victory in 441. Euripides left Athens for good in 408, accepting an invitation from Archelaus, king of Macedonia. He died in Macedonia in 406.

Euripides' only known public activity was his service on a diplomatic mission to Syracuse in Sicily. He was passionately interested in ideas, however, and owned a large library. He is said to have associated with Protagoras, Anaxagoras, and other Sophists and philosopher-scientists. His acquaintance with new ideas brought him restlessness rather than conviction, however, and his questioning attitude toward traditional Greek religion is reflected in some of his plays. Of Euripides' private life, little can be said. Later tradition invented for him a spectacularly disastrous married life. It is known that he had a wife called Melito and produced three sons. One of these was something of a poet and produced the *Bacchants* after his father's death. He may also have completed his father's unfinished play *Iphigenia at Aulis*.

The ancients knew of 92 plays composed by Euripides. Nineteen plays are extant, if one of disputed authorship is included. At only four festivals was Euripides awarded the first prize—the fourth posthumously, for the tetralogy that included *Bacchants* and *Iphigenia at Aulis*. As Sophocles won perhaps as many as 24 victories, it is clear that Euripides was comparatively unsuccessful. More to the point is that on more than 20 occasions Euripides was chosen, out

of all contestants, to be one of the three laureates of the year. Furthermore, the regularity with which Aristophanes parodied him is proof enough that Euripides' work commanded attention. It is often said that disappointment at his plays' reception in Athens was one of the reasons for his leaving his native city in his old age; but there are other reasons why an old poet might have left Athens in the 23rd year of the Peloponnesian War.

**Dramatic and literary achievements**

Euripides' plays exhibit his iconoclastic, rationalizing attitude toward both religious belief and the ancient legends and myths that formed the traditional subject matter for Greek drama. These legends seem to have been for him a mere collection of stories without any particular authority. He also apparently rejected the gods of Homeric theology, whom he frequently depicts as irrational, petulant, and singularly uninterested in meting out "divine justice." That the gods are so often presented on the stage by Euripides is partly due to their convenience as a source of information that could not otherwise be made available to the audience.

Given this attitude of sophisticated doubt on his part, Euripides invents protagonists who are quite different from the larger-than-life characters drawn with such conviction by Aeschylus and Sophocles. They are, for the most part, commonplace, down-to-earth men and women who have all the flaws and vulnerabilities ordinarily associated with human beings. Furthermore, Euripides makes his characters express the doubts, the problems and controversies, and in general the ideas and feelings of his own time. They sometimes even take time off from the dramatic action to debate each other on matters of current philosophical or social interest.

Euripides differed from Aeschylus and Sophocles in making his characters' tragic fates stem almost entirely from their own flawed natures and uncontrolled passions. Chance, disorder, and human irrationality and immorality frequently result not in an eventual reconciliation or moral resolution but in apparently meaningless suffering that is looked upon with indifference by the gods. The power of this type of drama lies in the frightening and ghastly situations it creates and in the melodramatic, even sensational, emotional effects of its characters' tragic crises.

Given this strong strain of psychological realism, Euripides shows moments of brilliant insight into his characters, especially in scenes of love and madness. His depictions of women deserve particular attention; it is easy to extract from his plays a long list of heroines who are fierce, treacherous, or adulterous, or all three at once. Misogyny is altogether too simple an explanation here, although Euripides' reputation in his own day was that of a woman hater, and a play by Aristophanes, *Women at the Thesmophoria*, comically depicts the indignation of the Athenian women at their portrayal by Euripides.

The chief structural peculiarities of Euripides' plays are his use of prologues and of the providential appearance of a god (deus ex machina) at the play's end. Almost all of the plays start with a monologue that is in effect a bare chronicle explaining the situation and characters with which the action begins. Similarly, the god's epilogue at the end of the play

serves to reveal the future fortunes of the characters. This latter device has been criticized as clumsy or artificial by modern authorities, but it was presumably more palatable to the audiences of Euripides' own time. Another striking feature of his plays is that over time Euripides found less and less use for the chorus; in his successive works it tends to grow detached from the dramatic action.

The word habitually used in antiquity to describe Euripides' ordinary style of dramatic speech is *lalia* ("chatter"), alluding probably both to its comparatively light weight and to the volubility of his characters of all classes. Notwithstanding this, Euripides' lyrics at times have considerable charm and sweetness. In the works written after 415 BC his lyrics underwent a change, becoming more emotional and luxuriant. At its worst this style is hardly distinguishable from Aristophanes' parody of it in his comedy *Frogs*, but where frenzied emotion is appropriate, as in the tragedy *Bacchants*, Euripides' songs are unsurpassed in their power and beauty.

During the last decade of his career Euripides began to write "tragedies" that might actually be called romantic dramas, or tragicomedies with happy endings. These plays have a highly organized structure leading to a recognition scene in which the discovery of a character's true identity produces a complete change in the situation, and in general a happy one. Extant plays in this style include *Ion*, *Iphigenia Among the Taurians*, and *Helen*. Plays of the tragicomedy type seem to anticipate the New Comedy of the 4th century BC.

The fame and popularity of Euripides eclipsed that of Aeschylus and Sophocles in the cosmopolitan Hellenistic period. The austere, lofty, essentially political and "religious" tragedy of Aeschylus and Sophocles had less appeal than that of Euripides, with its more accessible realism and its obviously emotional, even sensational, effects. Euripides thus became the most popular of the three for revivals of his plays in later antiquity; this is probably why at least 18 of his plays have survived compared to seven each for Aeschylus and Sophocles, and why the extant fragmentary quotations from his works are more numerous than those of Aeschylus and Sophocles put together.

## 27. The plays of Euripides

The dates of production of nine of Euripides' plays are known with some certainty from evidence that goes back to the official Athenian records. Those plays whose dates are prefixed by *c.* can be dated to within a few years by the internal evidence of Euripides' changing metrical techniques.

***Alcestis***

Though tragic in form, *Alcestis* (438 BC; Greek *Alkēstis*) ends happily and took the place of the satyr play that normally followed the three tragedies. King Admetus is doomed to die shortly, but he will be allowed a second life if he can find someone willing to die in his place. His wife, Alcestis, voluntarily dies in place of her husband, who sees too late that the fact and

manner of her dying will blight his life. But Admetus' old friend Heracles shows up and rescues Alcestis from the clutches of Death, restoring her to her happy and relieved husband.

***Medea***

One of Euripides' most powerful and best known plays, *Medea* (431 BC; Greek *Mēdeia*) is a remarkable study of the mistreatment of a woman and of her ruthless revenge. The Colchian princess Medea has been taken by the hero Jason to be his wife. They have lived happily for some years at Corinth and have two sons. But then Jason casts Medea off and decides to marry the Princess of Corinth. Medea is determined on revenge, and after a dreadful mental struggle between her passionate sense of injury and her love for her children, she decides to punish her husband by murdering both the Corinthian princess and their own sons, thereby leaving her husband to grow old with neither wife nor child. She steels herself to commit these deeds and then escapes in the chariot of her grandfather, the sun-god Helios, leaving Jason without even the satisfaction of punishing her for her crimes. Euripides succeeds in evoking sympathy for the figure of Medea, who becomes to some extent a representative of women's oppression in general.

***Children of Heracles***

The plot of *Children of Heracles* (430 BC; Greek *Hērakleidai*) concerns the Athenians' defense of the young children of the dead Heracles from the murderous intentions of King Eurystheus of Argos. The play is basically a simple glorification of Athens.

***Hippolytus***

In *Hippolytus* (428 BC; Greek *Hippolytos*) Aphrodite, the goddess of love and sexual desire, destroys Hippolytus, a lover of outdoor sports who is repelled by sexual passion and who is instead devoted to the virgin huntress Artemis. Aphrodite makes Phaedra, wife of Theseus, the king of Athens, fall violently in love with her stepson Hippolytus. Phaedra is deeply ashamed of her illicit passion, but when Hippolytus angrily rejects her love she is so mortified by his denunciation that she cannot forbear from falsely accusing him of rape before she kills herself. Her accusation provokes Theseus into pronouncing a curse on his son that eventually leads to Hippolytus' death. But Artemis reveals Hippolytus' innocence before he dies, and the young man is able to forgive his father, thus freeing Theseus from the dreadful stain of bloodguilt. Given the nature of its plot, the play is remarkable for its propriety.

***Andromache***

This play is set in the aftermath of the Trojan War. After an exciting beginning marked by strong anti-Spartan feeling, most of the original characters in *Andromache* (*c.* 426 BC) disappear and the interest is dissipated.

***Hecuba***

Also set in the aftermath of the Trojan War, *Hecuba* (*c.* 425 BC; Greek *Hekabē*) shows the double disaster that reduces the aged Trojan queen Hecuba, now a widowed slave, by sheer weight of hatred and misery to a mere animal ferocity. Hecuba first loses her daughter Polyxena, who is taken off to be sacrificed to the ghost of Achilles. Hecuba then discovers

the corpse of her last son, Polydorus, who has been murdered by his Thracian host, Polymestor. Hecuba eventually persuades the Greek commander Agamemnon to allow her to take vengeance; she and her women then blind Polymestor and murder his two young sons. Such is the power of misery to deprave, and the play's closing prophecy of Hecuba's future transformation into a bitch seems appropriate.

***Suppliants***

The title figures of *Suppliants* (*c.* 423 BC; Greek *Hiketides*; Latin *Supplices*) are the mothers of the Argive leaders who have been killed while attacking Thebes. The bodies of their sons have been left unburied by the Thebans, and they eventually persuade the Athenians to recover them. It is disputed whether the play is a straightforward eulogy of Athens and its democracy, or whether its sentiments are being expressed ironically.

***Electra***

The title character of *Electra* (*c.* 418 BC; Greek *Ēlektra*) and her brother Orestes murder their mother, Clytemnestra, in retribution for her murder of their father, Agamemnon. Electra herself is portrayed as a frustrated and resentful woman who finally lures her mother to her death by appealing to her maternal instincts. After the horrible murder both Electra and her reluctant accomplice Orestes are consumed by remorse. This is a bitterly realistic and antiheroic play that draws a disturbingly convincing portrait of both Electra's sufferings and her unattractive personality.

***Madness of Heracles***

The title character of *Madness of Heracles* (*c.* 416 BC; Greek *Hēraklēs mainomenos*; Latin *Hercules furens*) is temporarily driven mad by the goddess Hera and kills his wife and children. Subsequently Heracles recovers his reason and, after recovering from suicidal despair, is taken to spend an honourable retirement at Athens.

***Trojan Women***

The setting of *Trojan Women* (415 BC; Greek *Trōades*) is the time immediately after the taking of Troy, and the play treats the sufferings of the wives and children of the city's defeated leaders, in particular the old Trojan queen Hecuba and her children. Hecuba's daughter Cassandra is taken off to be the concubine of Agamemnon, and then her daughter-in-law Andromache is led off to be the slave of Neoptolemus. Andromache's son Astyanax is taken from her to be hurled to his death from the walls of Troy. Finally, as Troy goes up in flames, Hecuba and the other Trojan women are taken off to the ships to face slavery in Greece. This play is a famous and powerful indictment of the barbarous cruelties of war. It was first produced only months after the Athenians captured the city-state of Melos, butchering its men and reducing its women to slavery, and the *Trojan Women*'s mood may well have been influenced by the Athenians' atrocities and the Melians' fate, which are both mirrored in the play.

## 28. *Ion* of Euripides

This tragicomedy's sombre action is reversed by a recognition scene. In *Ion* (*c.* 413 BC), Creusa, the queen of Athens, is married to an immigrant king, Xuthus, but the couple do not have any children. Years before, the Queen was raped by the god Apollo but abandoned the subsequent child. The boy Ion has grown up as a temple slave at Delphi, where the play is set. When they meet, mother and son feel a strong affinity, but when the Delphic oracle says the boy is the son of Xuthus, the Queen in her despairing childlessness plots to kill the young stranger who threatens to take over her inheritance. At the last minute they recognize each other by means of the cradle Creusa had long ago left with her baby. The play has a superficially satisfactory ending, but its portrayal of human suffering and of divine carelessness and mendacity is tinged with darker feelings.

***Iphigenia Among the Taurians***

This is another tragicomedy, composed chiefly of a recognition scene followed by a clever escape. The title character of *Iphigenia Among the Taurians* (*c.* 413 BC; Greek *Iphigeneia en Taurois*; Latin *Iphigenia in Tauris*) has been saved by the goddess Artemis from sacrifice by her father and now serves the goddess' temple at Tauris in Thrace. Iphigenia's brother Orestes is captured by the local tyrant and is delivered to her for sacrifice. She recognizes him, however, and after some exciting mishaps they manage to escape from Tauris with the help of Athena.

***Helen***

In this frankly light play, Euripides deflates one of the best known "facts" of Greek mythology, that Helen ran off adulterously with Paris to Troy. In *Helen* (412 BC; Greek *Helenē*) only a phantom went with Paris to Troy, and the real Helen pines faithfully in Egypt. When Menelaus on his way home from Troy is shipwrecked in Egypt, he is baffled by the duplicate Helen until the evaporation of the phantom allows his reunion with the real one. The pair then escape from the King of Egypt, who is keen to marry Helen, by an amusing artifice.

***Phoenician Women***

This is a diverse, many-charactered play whose original version has been tampered with. *Phoenician Women* (*c.* 409 BC; Greek *Phoinissai*) is set at Thebes and concerns the mutual slaughter of the two sons of Oedipus, Eteocles and Polyneices.

***Orestes***

In this play Euripides makes nonsense of the old story of Orestes' murder of his mother, Clytemnestra, by setting the play in a world where courts of law already exist. In *Orestes* (408 BC), the main character, his sister Electra, and his cousin and friend Pylades are condemned to death by the men of Argos for the murder. Their uncle Menelaus is too spineless to defend them, and they are finally reduced to plotting to kill Menelaus' wife, Helen, and abduct her innocent daughter. This chaos of violence and attempted murder is only resolved by the deus ex machina Apollo, who appears and restores harmony at the end of the play.

***Iphigenia at Aulis***

The Greek fleet is becalmed at Aulis and is thus unable to convey the expeditionary force against Troy. Agamemnon learns that he must sacrifice his daughter Iphigenia as a means of appeasing the goddess Artemis, who has caused the unfavourable weather. Agamemnon lures his daughter into coming to Aulis to be sacrificed by pretending that she will marry Achilles. Once the truth is out, Iphigenia, after begging pathetically for her life, goes willingly to her death. Though incomplete and corrupted by later adapters, *Iphigenia at Aulis* (*c.* 406 BC; Greek *Iphigeneia en Aulidi*) is a fine tragedy whose realistic atmosphere is heightened by several subtle and poignant scenes between its main characters.

***Bacchants***

This play is regarded by many as Euripides' masterpiece. In *Bacchants* (*c.* 406 BC; Greek *Bakchai*; Latin *Bacchae*) the god Dionysus arrives in Greece from Asia intending to introduce his orgiastic worship there. He is disguised as a charismatic young Asian holy man and is accompanied by his women votaries, who make up the play's chorus. He expects to be accepted first in Thebes, but the Thebans reject his divinity and refuse to worship him, and the city's young king, Pentheus, tries to arrest him. In the end Dionysus drives Pentheus insane and leads him to the mountains, where Pentheus' own mother, Agave, and the women of Thebes in a bacchic frenzy tear him to pieces. Agave returns to Thebes triumphant carrying Pentheus' head, and her father, Cadmus, has to lead her back to sanity and recognition. The play shows how the liberating and ecstatic side of the Dionysiac religion must be balanced against the dangerous irresponsibility that goes with the Dionysiac loss of reason and self-consciousness.

***Cyclops***

Cyclops (Greek *Kyklōps*) is the only complete surviving satyr play. The play's cowardly, lazy satyrs with their disgraceful old father Silenus are slaves of the man-eating one-eyed Cyclops Polyphemus in Sicily. Odysseus arrives, driven to Sicily by adverse weather, and eventually succeeds (as in Homer's *Odyssey*) in blinding the Cyclops. He thus enables the Cyclops' victims to escape.

of

# UNIT IV

# CRIME AND PUNISHMENT

**Fyodor Mikhailovich Dostoyevsky,** was a Russian novelist, short story writer, essayist and journalist. Dostoevsky's literary works explore the human condition in the troubled political, social, and spiritual atmospheres of 19th-century Russia, and engage with a variety of philosophical and religious themes. His most acclaimed novels include *Crime and Punishment* (1866), *The Idiot* (1869), *Demons* (1872), and *The Brothers Karamazov* (1880). His 1864 novella, *Notes from Underground*, is considered to be one of the first works of existentialist literature.[4] Numerous literary critics regard him as one of the greatest novelists in all of world literature, as many of his works are considered highly influential masterpieces.[5]

Born in Moscow in 1821, Dostoevsky was introduced to literature at an early age through fairy tales and legends, and through books by Russian and foreign authors. His mother died in 1837 when he was 15, and around the same time, he left school to enter the Nikolayev Military Engineering Institute. After graduating, he worked as an engineer and briefly enjoyed a lavish lifestyle, translating books to earn extra money. In the mid-1840s he wrote his first novel, *Poor Folk*, which gained him entry into Saint Petersburg's literary circles. However, he was arrested in 1849 for belonging to a literary group, the Petrashevsky Circle, that discussed banned books critical of Tsarist Russia. Dostoevsky was sentenced to death but the sentence was commuted at the last

moment. He spent four years in a Siberian prison camp, followed by six years of compulsory military service in exile. In the following years, Dostoevsky worked as a journalist, publishing and editing several magazines of his own and later *A Writer's Diary*, a collection of his writings. He began to travel around western Europe and developed a gambling addiction, which led to financial hardship. For a time, he had to beg for money, but he eventually became one of the most widely read and highly regarded Russian writers.

In 1809, the 20-year-old Mikhail Dostoevsky enrolled in Moscow's Imperial Medical-Surgical Academy. From there he was assigned to a Moscow hospital, where he served as military doctor, and in 1818 he was appointed a senior physician. In 1819 he married Maria Nechayeva. The following year, he took up a post at the Mariinsky Hospital for the poor. In 1828, when his two sons, Mikhail and Fyodor, were eight and seven respectively, he was promoted to collegiate assessor, a position which raised his legal status to that of the nobility and enabled him to acquire a small estate in Darovoye, a town about 150 km (100 miles) from Moscow, where the family usually spent the summers. Dostoevsky's parents subsequently had six more children: Varvara (1822–1892), Andrei (1825–1897), Lyubov (born and died 1829), Vera (1829–1896), Nikolai (1831–1883) and Aleksandra (1835–1889).

Fyodor Dostoevsky, born on 11 November [O.S. 30 October] 1821 in Moscow, was the second child of Dr. Mikhail Dostoevsky and Maria Dostoevskaya. He was raised in the family home in the grounds of the Mariinsky Hospital for the Poor, which was in a lower class district on the edges of Moscow. Dostoevsky encountered the patients, who were at the lower end of the Russian social scale, when playing in the hospital gardens. Dostoevsky was introduced to literature at an early age. From the age of three, he was read heroic sagas, fairy tales and legends by his nanny, Alena Frolovna, an especially influential figure in his upbringing and his love for fictional stories. When he was four his mother used the Bible to teach him to read and write. His parents introduced him to a wide range of literature, including Russian writers Karamzin, Pushkin and Derzhavin; Gothic fiction such as the works from writer Ann Radcliffe; romantic works by Schiller and Goethe; heroic tales by Miguel de Cervantes and Walter Scott; and Homer's epics.

**Dostoevsky as a military engineer**

On 27 September 1837, Dostoevsky's mother died of tuberculosis. The previous May, his parents had sent Dostoevsky and his brother Mikhail to Saint Petersburg to attend the free Nikolayev Military Engineering Institute, forcing the brothers to abandon their academic studies for military careers. Dostoevsky entered the academy in January 1838, but only with the help of family members. Mikhail was refused admission on health grounds and was sent to an academy in Reval (now Tallinn, Estonia).

He disliked the academy, primarily because of his lack of interest in science, mathematics, and military engineering and his preference for drawing and architecture.

As his friend Konstantin Trutovsky once said, "There was no student in the entire institution with less of a military bearing than F.M. Dostoevsky. He moved clumsily and jerkily; his uniform hung awkwardly on him; and his knapsack, shako and rifle all looked like some sort of fetter he had been forced to wear for a time and which lay heavily on him."[26] Dostoevsky's character and interests made him an outsider among his 120 classmates: he showed bravery and a strong sense of justice, protected newcomers, aligned himself with teachers, criticised corruption among officers, and helped poor farmers. Although he was solitary and inhabited his own literary world, he was respected by his classmates. His reclusiveness and interest in religion earned him the nickname "Monk Photius".

\On 12 August 1843 Dostoevsky took a job as a lieutenant engineer and lived with Adolph Totleben in an apartment owned by Dr. Rizenkampf, a friend of Mikhail. Rizenkampf characterised him as "no less good-natured and no less courteous than his brother, but when not in a good mood he often looked at everything through dark glasses, became vexed, forgot good manners, and sometimes was carried away to the point of abusiveness and loss of self-awareness".[33] Dostoevsky's first completed literary work, a translation of Honoré de Balzac's novel *Eugénie Grandet*, was published in June and July 1843 in the 6th and 7th volumes of the journal *Repertoire and Pantheon*,[34][35] followed by several other translations. None were successful, and his financial difficulties led him to write a novel.

**Early career (1844–1849)**

Dostoevsky completed his first novel, *Poor Folk*, in May 1845. His friend Dmitry Grigorovich, with whom he was sharing an apartment at the time, took the manuscript to the poet Nikolay Nekrasov, who in turn showed it to the renowned and influential literary critic Vissarion Belinsky. Belinsky described it as Russia's first "social novel".[37] *Poor Folk* was released on 15 January 1846 in the *St Petersburg Collection* almanac and became a commercial success. He felt that his military career would endanger his now flourishing literary career, so he wrote a letter asking to resign his post. Shortly thereafter, he wrote his second novel, *The Double*, which appeared in the journal *Notes of the Fatherland* on 30 January 1846, before being published in February.

Around the same time, Dostoevsky discovered socialism through the writings of French thinkers Fourier, Cabet, Proudhon and Saint-Simon. Through his relationship with Belinsky he expanded his knowledge of the philosophy of socialism. He was attracted to its logic, its sense of justice and its preoccupation with the destitute and the disadvantaged. However, his Russian Orthodox faith and religious sensibilities could not accord with Belinsky's admixture of atheism, utilitarianism and scientific materialism, leading to increasing friction between them. Dostoevsky eventually parted with him and his associates.

After *The Double* received negative reviews (including a particularly scathing one from Belinsky) Dostoevsky's health declined and his seizures became more frequent, but he continued writing. From 1846 to 1848 he published several short stories in the

magazine *Notes of the Fatherland*, including "Mr. Prokharchin", "The Landlady", "A Weak Heart", and "White Nights". The negative reception of these stories, combined with his health problems and Belinsky's attacks, caused him distress and financial difficulty, but this was greatly alleviated when he joined the utopian socialist Beketov circle, a tightly knit community which helped him to survive. When the circle dissolved, Dostoevsky befriended Apollon Maykov and his brother Valerian. In 1846, on the recommendation of the poet Aleksey Pleshcheyev.

He joined the Petrashevsky Circle, founded by Mikhail Petrashevsky, who had proposed social reforms in Russia. Mikhail Bakunin once wrote to Alexander Herzen that the group was "the most innocent and harmless company" and its members were "systematic opponents of all revolutionary goals and means". After his release on 14 February 1854, Dostoevsky asked Mikhail to help him financially and to send him books by Vico, Guizot, Ranke, Hegel and Kant.[56] *The House of the Dead*, based on his experience in prison, was published in 1861 in the journal *Vremya* ("Time") – it was the first published novel about Russian prisons.

**Alienation from Society**

Alienation is the primary theme of *Crime and Punishment*. At first, Raskolnikov's pride separates him from society. He sees himself as superior to all other people and so cannot relate to anyone. Within his personal philosophy, he sees other people as tools and uses them for his own ends. After committing the murders, his isolation grows because of his intense guilt and the half-delirium into which his guilt throws him. Over and over again, Raskolnikov pushes away the people who are trying to help him, including Sonya, Dunya, Pulcheria Alexandrovna, Razumikhin, and even Porfiry Petrovich, and then suffers the consequences. In the end, he finds the total alienation that he has brought upon himself intolerable. Only in the Epilogue, when he finally realizes that he loves Sonya, does Raskolnikov break through the wall of pride and self-centeredness that has separated him from society.

**The Psychology of Crime and Punishment**

The manner in which the novel addresses crime and punishment is not exactly what one would expect. The crime is committed in Part I and the punishment comes hundreds of pages later, in the Epilogue. The real focus of the novel is not on those two endpoints but on what lies between them—an in-depth exploration of the psychology of a criminal. The inner world of Raskolnikov, with all of its doubts, deliria, second-guessing, fear, and despair, is the heart of the story. Dostoevsky concerns himself not with the actual repercussions of the murder but with the way the murder forces Raskolnikov to deal with tormenting guilt. Indeed, by focusing so little on Raskolnikov's imprisonment, Dostoevsky seems to suggest that actual punishment is much less terrible than the stress and anxiety of trying to avoid punishment. Porfiry Petrovich emphasizes the psychological angle of the novel, as he shrewdly realizes that Raskolnikov is the killer and makes several speeches in which he details the workings of Raskolnikov's mind after the killing. Because he understands that a guilt-ridden criminal must necessarily experience mental torture, he is certain that Raskolnikov will eventually confess or go mad. The expert mind games that he plays with Raskolnikov

strengthen the sense that the novel's outcome is inevitable because of the nature of the human psyche.

**The Idea of the Superman**

At the beginning of the novel, Raskolnikov sees himself as a "superman," a person who is extraordinary and thus above the moral rules that govern the rest of humanity. His vaunted estimation of himself compels him to separate himself from society. His murder of the pawnbroker is, in part, a consequence of his belief that he is above the law and an attempt to establish the truth of his superiority. Raskolnikov's inability to quell his subsequent feelings of guilt, however, proves to him that he is not a "superman." Although he realizes his failure to live up to what he has envisioned for himself, he is nevertheless unwilling to accept the total deconstruction of this identity. He continues to resist the idea that he is as mediocre as the rest of humanity by maintaining to himself that the murder was justified. It is only in his final surrender to his love for Sonya, and his realization of the joys in such surrender, that he can finally escape his conception of himself as a superman and the terrible isolation such a belief brought upon him.

**Nihilism**

Nihilism was a philosophical position developed in Russia in the 1850s and 1860s, known for "negating more," in the words of Lebezyatnikov. It rejected family and societal bonds and emotional and aesthetic concerns in favor of a strict materialism, or the idea that there is no "mind" or "soul" outside of the physical world. Linked to nihilism is utilitarianism, or the idea that moral decisions should be based on the rule of the greatest happiness for the largest number of people. Raskolnikov originally justifies the murder of Alyona on utilitarian grounds, claiming that a "louse" has been removed from society. Whether or not the murder is actually a utilitarian act, Raskolnikov is certainly a nihilist; completely unsentimental for most of the novel, he cares nothing about the emotions of others. Similarly, he utterly disregards social conventions that run counter to the austere interactions that he desires with the world. However, at the end of the novel, as Raskolnikov discovers love, he throws off his nihilism. Through this action, the novel condemns nihilism as empty.

## Crime and Punishment Summary

One July day in St. Petersburg, a poor young man slips out of his apartment and goes out. He is Rodion Romanych Raskolnikov, a former student, and he is preoccupied with something. He arrives at the apartment of Alyona Ivanovna, a pawnbroker, where he is attempting a trial of the unknown deed obsessing him. He has pawned something to this woman a month before, and now pawns an old watch for much less than he had hoped to get. As the woman gets her money, he watches and listens very carefully, storing up details in his memory. He leaves after vaguely mentioning that he may come back soon with another pledge. Tormented, he wanders

down the street, mentally at war with himself. He happens upon a tavern, where he stops to eat and drink something, and feels better after doing so. There, he meets Semyon Zakharovich Marmeladov, a retired official and a drunkard. Marmeladov pours out his life story to Raskolnikov, telling about his consumptive wife Katerina Ivanovna, his three small children, and his oldest daughter Sofya (Sonya), who has had to prostitute herself to earn money for the family. Marmeladov himself had recently acquired a position, but almost immediately lost it through his alcoholism. He has been away from home for five days, having stolen his salary money and spent it all on drink.

Marmeladov asks Raskolnikov to take him home. Rodion does so, and witnesses how Katerina Ivanovna falls on her husband and drags him about by his hair. She kicks Raskolnikov out, assuming him to be a drinking partner of her husband's. As he leaves, he places a handful of change on their windowsill unnoticed. Outside, he regrets this action, but knows he cannot go back to get the money. The next day, he awakens feeling unrested. Nastasya, the landlady's servant, comes in with some tea for him, as well as leftovers from the previous day's meal (since he is behind on his rent, the landlady has stopped sending his dinner up to him). She also tells him that he has received a letter. Agitated, he sends her to get it, and orders her out of the room so he can read it.

The letter is from his mother, Pulcheria Alexandrovna, and mostly concerns his sister Avdotya Romanovna, or Dunya. Dunya had been working as a governess in the house of the Svidrigailov family, but the husband's unfortunate attraction to her led the wife to kick Dunya out on the assumption that the girl had initiated the attraction. Marfa Petrovna, the wife, then proceeded to sully Dunya's reputation about town, until Svidrigailov himself came forward with evidence of Dunya's purity and innocence. At that point, Marfa Petrovna had completely reversed herself, and gone about restoring Dunya's honor with comic zeal. She had also arranged for a relation of hers, one Pyotr Petrovich Luzhin, to meet Dunya, and this gentleman had become engaged to Dunya. Following Luzhin, Pulcheria Alexandrovna and Dunya would be coming to Petersburg shortly, and are very much looking forward to seeing Rodion.

Rodya goes out to walk around and think. Though his mother puts a positive spin on everything, it is clear that Luzhin does not love Dunya and is not worthy of her, and that Dunya knows this but has resolved to marry him to materially benefit her family. Rodya, disgusted and angered, refuses to accept this self-sacrifice; but after resolving to stop the engagement, he immediately questions his own "right" to get involved. Raskolnikov realizes that he had been automatically on his way to see Dmitri Prokofych Razumikhin, his only friend from university. He decides he will see Razumikhin the day after "that," i.e. the unknown deed. He wanders about and ends up falling asleep by the side of the road. He dreams about watching a group of peasants beating an old nag viciously until the poor horse collapses and dies.

He awakens in a sweat, profoundly thankful that it was only a dream. He rethinks "that," and suddenly concludes that he could never do it. Feeling better, renewed, he

heads for home. However, he takes a detour through the Haymarket. There, he overhears a conversation between Lizaveta Ivanovna, the pawnbroker's half-sister, and a couple of tradespeople. It turns out that Lizaveta will be out on business the following evening. Raskolnikov is suddenly possessed with the fact that Alyona Ivanovna will definitely be alone at a time he knows of‹that this is a once-in-a-lifetime opportunity. He goes home and falls into a long, strange, troubled sleep. He wakes up in the evening, and fears he may have missed his chance. He immediately bustles about, making his preparations: the deed that has been obsessing him is the murder and robbery of the pawnbroker. He plans to retain complete control over his reason and will, and thereby commit the perfect crime, and perhaps use the fruits of it (i.e. the stolen goods) to help others. Raskolnikov makes his way to Alyona Ivanovna's. He enters on the pretext of having a new pledge for her. As she struggles with the deliberately difficult knots, he takes out his axe and hits her on the head with it until she dies.

Nerve-wracked, he fumbles about before finally unlocking a trunk full of goods. As he is stuffing his pockets, he hears a footstep. Frozen, he realizes in panic that someone has come in. Grabbing the axe, he rushes out into the room. There stands Lizaveta, staring at the body of her half-sister. Rodya rushes at her and kills her with the axe as well. Hearing people outside, Raskolnikov hooks the door-latch and crouches behind it, listening. The visitors, suspecting something wrong, run to get help. Quietly Rodya slips out of the apartment and manages to leave the building and return home unnoticed, though he is practically collapsing. After a fitful sleep punctuated by moments of frenzied activity, Rodya is awakened by Nastasya coming in with the caretaker, who hands him a summons to go to the police station. Panicked, he wonders why he has been summoned, and despite his clear illness, he gets up to go.

His nerves are frayed, but when he gets to the station he finds that he has been called to make a payment on a promissory note he had written long ago for his landlady. Relieved, he writes a statement of his promise to pay, directed by the clerk. However, the chief of police Nikodim Fomich and his assistant Ilya Petrovich are talking about the murders, and Raskolnikov faints. He recovers to find them all looking at him strangely. Ilya Petrovich starts to ask him where he was the previous night. Nikodim Fomich reproaches Ilya Petrovich and Raskolnikov is dismissed. Rodya returns home, where he makes sure his apartment has not been searched, and gathers up all the stolen goods from where he had hidden them. He goes out and ends up hiding them beneath a stone in a deserted courtyard. He drops in on Razumikhin, who is utterly astonished to see him. However, Raskolnikov leaves almost as soon as he has arrived, throwing Razumikhin into indignant frustration.

Rodya returns home and goes to bed. The next morning he falls unconscious, at last succumbing to an illness that had been coming on for quite some time. When he at last comes to, Razumikhin is there, having tended him through his illness, and Rodya receives 35 roubles from his mother, who has borrowed it on the security of her pension. Razumikhin, who has befriended practically everyone in Rodya's life by this

point, has recovered Rodya's promissory note and takes some of the money to buy him new (actually second-hand) clothes.

Dr. Zossimov checks on Rodya, and while he is there he and Razumikhin start talking about the murders. Razumikhin has gotten to know Zamyotov, the clerk at the police station, and they are hoping to absolve the current suspect, Nikolai Dementiev, who had been working as a painter in the house at the time of the crime. Raskolnikov is tortured by all this. Amidst the discussion, Pyotr Petrovich Luzhin, Dunya's fiancé, enters. He has come to call on Rodion, but the visit ends disastrously in a quarrel, with Rodya kicking him out. Rodya orders everyone else to leave, and after he is alone he gets up and goes out. After wandering aimlessly, he enters the Crystal Palace tavern, where he encounters Zamyotov. He engages in a mind-game with the clerk, taunting him and leading him to believe that he was the murderer‹before pulling him up short and accusing him of believing it. He exits, leaving Zamyotov convinced that Rodya cannot possibly be the murderer.

On his way out, Rodya runs into Razumikhin, who is enraged at his irresponsible disappearance, especially as he is ill. They argue, but in the end Razumikhin invites him to a party he is having that evening. Rodya walks off. Razumikhin, frustrated, goes in to talk to Zamyotov. Rodya wanders about, considers jumping into the river, then turns to go to the police station. On his way, however, he passes Alyona Ivanovna's house. Inexplicably impelled, he goes in to the apartment, where workmen are renovating the place. He scares them by asking about the blood and ringing the doorbell incessantly just to hear the sound. They all go downstairs, and there is much discussion about taking this madman to the police, which he agrees with. But in the end he is ordered off the premises.

In doubt as to whether he should go, he hesitates in the street. He spots a commotion and approaches it. It turns out that Marmeladov, drunk, has been run over by a carriage. Rodya takes charge and conveys Marmeladov to his apartment. They send for a doctor and a priest. Sonya is also sent for, and Marmeladov, after begging forgiveness, dies in her arms. Rodya gives Katerina Ivanovna all of his money, everything he has left from what his mother had sent him, for the funeral, and leaves. He feels renewed. On his way home, he stops at Razumikhin's. Razumikhin, who has had a lot to drink, walks him home. They open the door to find Rodya's sister and mother there. Overcome, Rodya passes out. He recovers to demand that Dunya break off her engagement with Luzhin, and is generally rude and sullen. Razumikhin is indignant, and takes the ladies under his wing. He escorts them home and, having been immediately smitten with the beautiful Dunya, promises to return twice to report on Rodya's state. Despite the ladies' doubts about his abilities, he carries out his promises to the full.

The next day he is embarrassed as he recalls his drunken behavior, but when he goes to see the women they are not only kind but grateful. They ask him all sorts of questions about Rodya. They also show him a letter they had received from Luzhin that

morning, requesting a meeting at 8:00 pm, and demanding that Rodya not be present. They go to see Rodya and find him with Zossimov. Rodya is strange and somehow distant, and the meeting is tense. Rodya tells Dunya that she must choose between him and Luzhin. She asks him and Razumikhin to be present at the meeting at 8:00. Sonya, who has been mentioned disparagingly in Luzhin's letter, enters the room. She and Rodya are both somehow embarrassed, but he seats her next to his mother and sister, introducing them. His family leaves shortly thereafter. Rodya bids Sonya wait, takes Razumikhin aside to ask him about going to see Porfiry Petrovich (a relation of Razumikhin's and the investigator assigned to the murder case), and they all walk out together. Rodya promises to call on Sonya later, and asks her address. They part on the street. A stranger who has heard Sonya address Rodya by name follows her home, and is surprised to find that he lives next door to her.

Rodya enters Porfiry Petrovich's apartment in high humor, but is startled to see Zamyotov there as well. The conversation does not go very well; Rodya quickly loses his grip on his composure in the face of Porfiry's inscrutability. Porfiry, who is very interested in psychology, mentions an article Rodya had written entitled "On Crime," in which he explores the criminal psychology and introduces his own theory. This theory states that humanity is divided into the masses and the leaders, the "extraordinary" men who have great ideas and something new to say. Rodya argues that if such men find it necessary to commit crimes in the pursuit of their ideas, they have the right to do so in their own consciences.

Porfiry invites him to his office the next day. Rodya and Razumikhin leave to go meet with Dunya and her mother. As they approach, Rodya suddenly tells Razumikhin that he has something to do, but will catch up with them later. He hastens back to his flat, checks to see if he has left any evidence in his room, then wanders out. Outside, the caretaker points out a tradesman who had been asking after Rodya. The tradesman, still there, looks at Rodya and walks away without a word. Rodya catches up with him and asks his business. The man calls him a murderer, and disappears without explanation. Weak, Rodya returns to his room and lies down. His thoughts swirl around this unknown man who seems to know everything. He reflects on his failure in committing the crime‹he has proved not to be an "extraordinary" man but a "louse." He falls asleep and has tormented dreams. He awakens to find a stranger in his room.

The man introduces himself as Arkady Ivanovich Svidrigailov. After some strange conversation, Rodya demands to know the man's business. He replies that he has come to offer Dunya 10,000 roubles to break off her engagement with Luzhin. Indignant at first, Rodya at last consents to pass on the message to her. On his way out, Svidrigailov informs Rodya that Marfa Petrovna, who had died recently, has left Dunya 3,000 roubles in her will. Razumikhin comes to get Rodya, and they head for their meeting. On the way Rodya entrusts his family to Razumikhin's care. At the meeting, Dunya announces that she wishes Luzhin and Rodya to reconcile. Luzhin, however, refuses, and it is not long before another quarrel erupts and Dunya, angered and

insulted, breaks off the engagement and kicks him out. Luzhin departs, seething with hatred for Rodya and nourishing the hope that he may be able to reconcile yet with Dunya and her mother.

Everyone is joyful, especially at Marfa Petrovna's bequest to Dunya, and they start planning for the future. Rodya, however, abruptly leaves, requesting to be left alone. Razumikhin chases after him. Rodya once more entrusts his family to Razumikhin's care, and they exchange a long look in the hallway, through which Rodya seems to transmit his horrible secret to Razumikhin.

Rodya immediately goes to Sonya. He torments her, yet also kisses her foot. He wonders how she has managed to keep her soul untainted, and learns that her unshakeable faith in God has preserved her. Suspecting that she is a "holy fool," he asks her to read him the story of Lazarus from the Bible. After she does so, he promises to tell her who killed Lizaveta if he comes back the next day, and departs. On the other side of the door sits Svidrigailov, who has been listening with great interest to the entire conversation. The next morning, Rodya goes to Porfiry Petrovich's office. Again, the conversation goes badly, as Rodya is unable to read Porfiry. It is a game of psychological cat and mouse, and Porfiry uses thinly-veiled references to Rodya's own behavior to point out that human nature is on the investigator's side, because it will eventually lead the criminal to break down. Frustrated by Porfiry's repeated attempts to catch him up with lies, Rodya erupts in fear and indignation.

As he is leaving, Nikolai Dementiev, the house-painter who has been under suspicion in the murder case, bursts in, falls on his knees, and intones a confession, throwing Porfiry off in a way that cheers Raskolnikov. Rodya goes home for a little while, then gets up to go to Marmeladov's memorial meal. At his door, he encounters the tradesman who had accused him of being a murderer. The man asks forgiveness for his suspicion. He leaves Rodya a new man, refreshed by the fact that Porfiry now has not a single thing to make his suspicions stick.

Luzhin, upset at losing Dunya, concocts a plan to discredit Raskolnikov to his family by framing and slandering Sonya, and thereby return into Dunya's good graces. Before Marmeladov's memorial meal, Luzhin calls Sonya in, and gives her 10 roubles out of a large stack of money he has been counting, in the presence of his roommate, Andrei Semyonovich Lebezyatnikov. Sonya then goes to the meal, where Rodya sits with Katerina Ivanovna and a host of other rather unpleasant guests. The meal goes badly, and is on the point of breaking out into a fight when Luzhin enters. He accuses Sonya of having stolen 100 roubles from him. She denies it, but a search turns up the money in her pocket. Before the police can be called, however, Lebezyatnikov, who has been watching, announces that Luzhin had planted the money on Sonya without her knowing. Rodya steps forward to explain Luzhin's probable motivation.

Luzhin escapes before he suffers at the hands of the company. Chaos ensues: Sonya runs home hysterically, the landlady kicks the Marmeladovs out, and Katerina

Ivanovna goes out to seek justice. Rodya goes to Sonya's place and confesses his crime to her. She is horrified, incredulous at first, but in the end she hears his explanations and sees his torment. She tells him that he must confess his crime to the world. He resists this idea, though he knows he will eventually be imprisoned. Lebezyatnikov comes in to tell them that Katerina Ivanovna has gone mad and is making her children sing in the streets for money. Sonya runs out. Rodya goes home. Unexpectedly, Dunya comes in. She tells him that Razumikhin had told her that Rodya is under suspicion for murder, and that she is there for him if he needs her. After she leaves, he goes out again, and encounters Lebezyatnikov, who takes him to where Katerina Ivanovna and her children are. Katerina Ivanovna is nearly raving, and her children are terrified. She refuses to go back to the apartment. The children try to run away, and in chasing them she collapses. In the final stages of her consumption, she is taken to Sonya's apartment, where she dies.

Svidrigailov tells Rodya that he will provide for her children, and then drops a few quotes to show Rodya that he had been eavesdropping on Rodya's confession to Sonya. Terrified, Rodya plunges into a time of vagueness, wandering about aimlessly. One day Razumikhin comes into his room to vent his indignation at Rodya's treatment of his family. As he leaves, Rodya commends the ladies to Razumikhin's care, and even mentions that Dunya may love him already. Razumikhin leaves, elated, but pokes his head back in to tell Rodya that the painter Nikolai confessed to the murders; Porfiry himself told Razumikhin all about it. Rodya, unburdened by this unexpected news, is about to go out and find Svidrigailov when Porfiry comes in. They sit down. Porfiry tells Rodya that he knows he is guilty, and that he should turn himself in. He exhorts Rodya not to give up on life, because he has his whole life before him. After telling him that he will probably arrest him within two days, Porfiry takes his leave of Rodion, wishing him well.

Rodya leaves in search of Svidrigailov. He finds him in a tavern. He tells Svidrigailov point-blank that if he plans to blackmail Dunya with his knowledge of Rodya's secret, Rodya will kill him. Svidrigailov, rather drunk, talks about Marfa Petrovna and his attempted seduction of Dunya. He also tells Rodion about his new 16-year-old fiancée. Rodya, disgusted by him, gets up to go. They both leave at about the same time. Rodya follows Svidrigailov for a little while before he is convinced that Svidrigailov has no plans to meet Dunya that day. He leaves him. Almost immediately, Dunya enters the picture, indeed to meet with Svidrigailov, who has sent her a letter mentioning Rodya's secret and promising to provide proof. He takes her to his apartment, ostensibly to provide proof but really to blackmail her. Too late, she finds herself locked in the room with him. She has brought a gun, however, and threatens to shoot him if he comes near her. In the end, she drops the gun and he, touched by this, drops his threatening demeanor. When he establishes that she can never love him, he tells her to leave quickly. He leaves his apartment, spends the remainder of the day wandering about and settling his affairs, and shoots himself the next morning.

of

Later that day, Rodya goes to see his mother for the last time before turning himself in. He then hurries home, where he finds Dunya waiting for him. He takes leave of her and goes to Sonya. She gives him a cross. He rushes out rudely, not even saying goodbye to her, impatient to get it over with, even though he can't understand why he should go, because he still does not see his act as a crime. He goes to the station, with Sonya following him. He finds out that Svidrigailov is dead, and, stunned, leaves without confessing; but Sonya is waiting for him, and he goes back upstairs and confesses. Rodya is exiled to Siberia, where Sonya follows him. Dunya marries Razumikhin. Pulcheria Alexandrovna dies. Sonya writes to the Razumikhins about Rodya. He is unsociable and hated by his fellow prisoners. He falls ill. At the end of his illness, Sonya herself is ill, and he misses her. When she recovers, she goes to him, and he at last repents truly, falling at her feet and weeping. Having finally recognized his sin, he is resurrected‹able to love Sonya and look forward to his life with her.

# *ANNA KARENINA*

**Lev Nikolayevich Tolstoy,** Russian, usually referred to in English as **Leo Tolstoy**, was a Russian writer who is regarded as one of the greatest authors of all time.[3] He received nominations for the Nobel Prize in Literature every year from 1902 to 1906 and for the Nobel Peace Prize in 1901, 1902, and 1909; the fact that he never won is a major controversy.

Born to an aristocratic Russian family in 1828, Tolstoy's notable works include the novels *War and Peace* (1869) and *Anna Karenina* (1878), often cited as pinnacles of realist fiction.[3] He first achieved literary acclaim in his twenties with his semi-autobiographical trilogy, *Childhood*, *Boyhood*, and *Youth* (1852–1856), and *Sevastopol Sketches* (1855), based upon his experiences in the Crimean War. His fiction includes dozens of short stories such as "After the Ball" (1911), and several novellas such as *The Death of Ivan Ilyich* (1886), *Family Happiness* (1859) and *Hadji Murad* (1912). He also wrote plays and philosophical essays.

## Origins

### *Main article: Tolstoy family*

The Tolstoys were a well-known family of old Russian nobility who traced their ancestry to a mythical nobleman named Indris described by Pyotr Tolstoy as arriving "from Nemec, from the lands of Caesar" to Chernigov in 1353 along with his two sons Litvinos (or Litvonis) and Zimonten (or Zigmont) and a druzhina of 3000 people.[11][12] While the word "Nemec" has been long used to describe Germans only, at that time it was applied to any foreigner who did not speak Russian (from the word *nemoy* meaning *mute*). Indris was then converted to Eastern Orthodoxy, under the name of Leonty, and his sons as Konstantin and Feodor. Konstantin's grandson Andrei Kharitonovich was nicknamed Tolstiy (translated as *fat*) by Vasily II of Moscow after he moved from Chernigov to Moscow.

Because of the pagan names and the fact that Chernigov at the time was ruled by Demetrius I Starshy, some researchers concluded that they were Lithuanians who arrived from the Grand Duchy of Lithuania. At the same time, no mention of Indris was ever found in the 14th-to-16th-century documents, while the Chernigov Chronicles used by Pyotr Tolstoy as a reference were lost. The first documented members of the Tolstoy family also lived during the 17th century, thus Pyotr Tolstoy himself is generally considered the founder of the noble house, being granted the title of count by Peter the Great.

## Life and career

Tolstoy was born at Yasnaya Polyana, a family estate 12 kilometres (7.5 mi) southwest of Tula, and 200 kilometres (120 mi) south of Moscow. He was the fourth of five children of Count Nikolai Ilyich Tolstoy (1794–1837), a veteran of the Patriotic War of 1812, and Princess Mariya Tolstaya (née Volkonskaya; 1790–1830). His mother died when he was two and his father when he was nine. Tolstoy and his siblings were brought up by relatives. In 1844, he began studying law and oriental languages at Kazan University, where teachers described him as "both unable and unwilling to learn".

Tolstoy left the university in the middle of his studies, returned to Yasnaya Polyana and then spent much time in Moscow, Tula and Saint Petersburg, leading a lax and leisurely lifestyle. He began writing during this period, including his first novel *Childhood*, a fictitious account of his own youth, which was published in 1852. In 1851, after running up heavy gambling debts, he went with his older brother to the Caucasus and joined the army. Tolstoy served as a young artillery officer during the Crimean War and was in Sevastopol during the 11-month-long siege of Sevastopol in 1854–55, including the Battle of the Chernaya. During the war he was recognised for his courage and promoted to lieutenant. He was appalled by the number of deaths involved in warfare, and left the army after the end of the Crimean War.

His European trip in 1860–61 shaped both his political and literary development when he met Victor Hugo. Tolstoy read Hugo's newly finished *Les Misérables*. The similar evocation of battle scenes in Hugo's novel and Tolstoy's *War and Peace* indicates this influence. Tolstoy's political philosophy was also influenced by a March 1861 visit to French anarchist Pierre-Joseph Proudhon, then living in exile under an assumed name in Brussels. Tolstoy reviewed Proudhon's forthcoming publication, *La Guerre et la Paix* and later used the title for his masterpiece. The two men also discussed education, as Tolstoy wrote in his educational notebooks: "If I recount this conversation with Proudhon, it is to show that, in my personal experience, he was the only man who understood the significance of education and of the printing press in our time."

Fired by enthusiasm, Tolstoy returned to Yasnaya Polyana and founded 13 schools for the children of Russia's peasants, who had just been emancipated from serfdom in 1861. Tolstoy described the schools' principles in his 1862 essay "The School at Yasnaya Polyana". His educational experiments were short-lived, partly due to harassment by the Tsarist secret police. However, as a direct forerunner to A.S. Neill's Summerhill School, the school at Yasnaya Polyanacan justifiably be claimed the first example of a coherent theory of democratic education.

**Personal life**

The death of his brother Nikolay in 1860 had an impact on Tolstoy, and led him to a desire to marry.[18] On 23 September 1862, Tolstoy married Sophia Andreevna Behrs, who was sixteen years his junior and the daughter of a court physician. She was called Sonya, the Russian diminutive of Sofia, by her family and friends.[27] They had 13 children, eight of whom survived childhood.

The marriage was marked from the outset by sexual passion and emotional insensitivity when Tolstoy, on the eve of their marriage, gave her his diaries detailing his extensive sexual past and the fact that one of the serfs on his estate had borne him a son.[27] Even so, their early married life was happy and allowed Tolstoy much freedom and the support system to compose *War and Peace* and *Anna Karenina* with Sonya acting as his secretary, editor, and financial manager. Sonya was copying and hand-writing his epic works time after time. Tolstoy would continue editing *War and Peace* and had to have clean final drafts to be delivered to the publisher. However, their later life together has been described by A.N. Wilson as one of the unhappiest in literary history. Tolstoy's relationship with his wife deteriorated as his beliefs became increasingly radical. This saw him seeking to reject his inherited and earned wealth, including the renunciation of the copyrights on his earlier works.

Some of the members of the Tolstoy family left Russia in the aftermath of the 1905 Russian Revolution and the subsequent establishment of the Soviet Union, and many of Leo Tolstoy's relatives and descendants today live in Sweden, Germany, the United Kingdom, France and the United States. Tolstoy's son, Count Lev Lvovich

Tolstoy, settled in Sweden and married a Swedish woman. Leo Tolstoy's last surviving grandchild, Countess Tatiana Tolstoy-Paus, died in 2007 at Herresta manor in Sweden, which is owned by Tolstoy's descendants.[30] Swedish jazz singer Viktoria Tolstoy is also descended from Leo Tolstoy. One of his great-great-grandsons, Vladimir Tolstoy (born 1962), is a director of the Yasnaya Polyana museum since 1994 and an adviser to the President of Russia on cultural affairs since 2012.[32][33] Ilya Tolstoy's great-grandson, Pyotr Tolstoy, is a well-known Russian journalist and TV presenter as well as a State Duma deputy since 2016. His cousin Fyokla Tolstaya (born Anna Tolstaya in 1971), daughter of the acclaimed Soviet Slavist Nikita Tolstoy (ru) (1923–1996), is also a Russian journalist, TV and radio host.[34]

**Novels and fictional works**

Tolstoy is considered one of the giants of Russian literature; his works include the novels *War and Peace* and *Anna Karenina* and novellas such as *Hadji Murad* and *The Death of Ivan Ilyich*.

Tolstoy's earliest works, the autobiographical novels *Childhood*, *Boyhood*, and *Youth* (1852–1856), tell of a rich landowner's son and his slow realization of the chasm between himself and his peasants.

**Summary of Anna Karenina**

The Oblonsky family of Moscow is torn apart by adultery. Dolly Oblonskaya has caught her husband, Stiva, having an affair with their children's former governess, and threatens to leave him. Stiva is somewhat remorseful but mostly dazed and uncomprehending. Stiva's sister, Anna Karenina, wife of the St. Petersburg government official Karenin, arrives at the Oblonskys' to mediate. Eventually, Anna is able to bring Stiva and Dolly to reconciliation. Meanwhile, Dolly's younger sister, Kitty, is courted by two suitors: Konstantin Levin, an awkward landowner, and Alexei Vronsky, a dashing military man. Kitty turns down Levin in favor of Vronsky, but not long after, Vronsky meets Anna Karenina and falls in love with her instead of Kitty. The devastated Kitty falls ill. Levin, depressed after having been rejected by Kitty, withdraws to his estate in the country.

Anna returns to St. Petersburg, reflecting on her infatuation with Vronsky, but when she arrives home she dismisses it as a fleeting crush. Vronsky, however, follows Anna to St. Petersburg, and their mutual attraction intensifies as Anna begins to mix with the freethinking social set of Vronsky's cousin Betsy Tverskaya. At a party, Anna implores Vronsky to ask Kitty's forgiveness; in response, he tells Anna that he loves her. Karenin goes home from the party alone, sensing that something is amiss. He speaks to Anna later that night about his suspicions regarding her and Vronsky, but she curtly dismisses his concerns. Sometime later, Vronsky participates in a military officers' horse race. Though an accomplished horseman, he makes an error during the race, inadvertently breaking his horse's back. Karenin notices his wife's intense interest

in Vronsky during the race. He confronts Anna afterward, and she candidly admits to Karenin that she is having an affair and that she loves Vronsky.

Karenin is stunned. Kitty, meanwhile, attempts to recover her health at a spa in Germany, where she meets a pious Russian woman and her do-gooder protégée, Varenka. Kitty also meets Levin's sickly brother Nikolai, who is also recovering at the spa. Levin's intellectual half-brother, Sergei Koznyshev, visits Levin in the country and criticizes him for quitting his post on the local administrative council. Levin explains that he resigned because he found the work bureaucratic and useless. Levin works enthusiastically with the peasants on his estate but is frustrated by their resistance to agricultural innovations. He visits Dolly, who tempts him with talk of reviving a relationship with Kitty. Later, Levin meets Kitty at a dinner party at the Oblonsky household, and the two feel their mutual love. They become engaged and marry. Karenin rejects Anna's request for a divorce. He insists that they maintain outward appearances by staying together. Anna moves to the family's country home, however, away from her husband. She encounters Vronsky often, but their relationship becomes clouded after Anna reveals she is pregnant. Vronsky considers resigning his military post, but his old ambitions prevent him. Karenin, catching Vronsky at the Karenin country home one day, finally agrees to divorce.

Anna, in her childbirth agony, begs for Karenin's forgiveness, and he suddenly grants it. He leaves the divorce decision in her hands, but she resents his generosity and does not ask for a divorce. Instead, Anna and Vronsky go to Italy, where they lead an aimless existence. Eventually, the two return to Russia, where Anna is spurned by society, which considers her adultery disgraceful. Anna and Vronsky withdraw into seclusion, though Anna dares a birthday visit to her young son at Karenin's home. She begins to feel great jealousy for Vronsky, resenting the fact that he is free to participate in society while she is housebound and scorned. Married life brings surprises for Levin, including his sudden lack of freedom. When Levin is called away to visit his dying brother Nikolai, Kitty sparks a quarrel by insisting on accompanying him. Levin finally allows her to join him. Ironically, Kitty is more helpful to the dying Nikolai than Levin is, greatly comforting him in his final days. Kitty discovers she is pregnant.

Dolly and her family join Levin and Kitty at Levin's country estate for the summer. At one point, Stiva visits, bringing along a friend, Veslovsky, who irks Levin by flirting with Kitty. Levin finally asks Veslovsky to leave. Dolly decides to visit Anna, and finds her radiant and seemingly very happy. Dolly is impressed by Anna's luxurious country home but disturbed by Anna's dependence on sedatives to sleep. Anna still awaits a divorce. Levin and Kitty move to Moscow to await the birth of their baby, and they are astonished at the expenses of city life. Levin makes a trip to the provinces to take part in important local elections, in which the vote brings a victory for the young liberals. One day, Stiva takes Levin to visit Anna, whom Levin has never met. Anna enchants Levin, but her success in pleasing Levin only fuels her resentment

toward Vronsky. She grows paranoid that Vronsky no longer loves her. Meanwhile, Kitty enters labor and bears a son. Levin is confused by the conflicting emotions he feels toward the infant. Stiva goes to St. Petersburg to seek a cushy job and to beg Karenin to grant Anna the divorce he once promised her.

Karenin, following the advice of a questionable French psychic, refuses. Anna picks a quarrel with Vronsky, accusing him of putting his mother before her and unfairly postponing plans to go to the country. Vronsky tries to be accommodating, but Anna remains angry. When Vronsky leaves on an errand, Anna is tormented. She sends him a telegram urgently calling him home, followed by a profusely apologetic note. In desperation, Anna drives to Dolly's to say goodbye, and then returns home. She resolves to meet Vronsky at the train station after his errand, and she rides to the station in a stupor. At the station, despairing and dazed by the crowds, Anna throws herself under a train and dies. Two months later, Sergei's book has finally been published, to virtually no acclaim. Sergei represses his disappointment by joining a patriotic upsurge of Russian support for Slavic peoples attempting to free themselves from Turkish rule. Sergei, Vronsky, and others board a train for Serbia to assist in the cause. Levin is skeptical of the Slavic cause, however. Kitty becomes worried by Levin's gloomy mood.

He has become immersed in questions about the meaning of life but feels unable to answer them. One day, however, a peasant remarks to Levin that the point of life is not to fill one's belly but to serve God and goodness. Levin receives this advice as gospel, and his life is suddenly transformed by faith. Later that day, Levin, Dolly, and Dolly's children seek shelter from a sudden, violent thunderstorm, only to discover that Kitty and Levin's young son are still outside. Levin runs to the woods and sees a huge oak felled by lightning. He fears the worst, but his wife and child are safe. For the first time, Levin feels real love for his son, and Kitty is pleased. Levin reflects again that the meaning of his life lies in the good that he can put into it.

## Theme

All happy families are alike; each unhappy family is unhappy in its own way. All was confusion in the Oblonskys' house. The wife had found out that the husband was having an affair with their former French governess, and had announced to the husband that she could not live in the same house with him." — from *Anna Karenina*. The very first sentence of Count Leo Tolstoy's burgeoning novel of ideas establishes the framework of family as a way to read, question and understand the complex interrelationships between the characters and the actions they take. The author says, to begin, "All happy families are alike; each unhappy family is unhappy in its own way."

Suddenly, we become flies on the walls in the homes of a host of unhappy families, all of which are mired in some crisis of misunderstanding or misconnection. It's such a tangled web, it's nearly impossible to keep the families and characters in order and figure out how they are related. We meet the Oblonskys struggling with the

aftermath of infidelity; the Shcherbatskys attempting to marry off the eligible Kitty with varied success; Levin's interesting family dynamic with his brothers; Vronsky's apparent disdain for family life and his mother; Anna Karenina's hollow and unfulfilling marriage to the distant Karenin. It is through this dynamic lens of familial commitment that we begin to take a close look at each of the characters we meet. How Stiva approaches his wife Dolly after she has discovered his affair tells us a great deal not only about these two, but also about the culture in which they live and what is considered accepted practice.

In Prince and Princess Shcherbatsky's desire to facilitate a successful match between Vronsky and their youngest daughter, we begin to understand more about how parents view their children in this society. In their case, the Prince thinks Levin is an upstanding man and finds Vronsky lacking in gravitas while the Princess is taken by Vronsky's charms and thinks Levin is full of pride. The way that these families interrelate with each other—the marriages and sibling relationships between them also creates a tight-knit community within the larger community of Moscow and St. Petersburg. It gives us as readers a stage with distinct boundaries upon which to judge the play that unfolds. Keep an eye on it: In the end, this focus on family helps to bring about some of the most powerful and meaningful lessons in the universe that becomes *Anna Karenina*.

of

# YOGI VEMANA UNIVERSITY, KADAPA

**DEPARTMENT OF ENGLISH**

**M.A ENGLISH LITERATUREAND LANGUAGE**

**SEMESTER – I**

**ENGYVU105: PROSE – I**

**INTERNAL ELECTIVE(A)**

**With Effect From 2021-22 (Under NEP 2020 )**

## Program Educational Objectives (PEOs)

- To develop the imagination and fancy of the students.
- To acquaints the students with the style of the writer.
- To develop their love for natural objects.
- To develop their aesthetic sense.
- To develop the habit of thinking among the students.

**UNIT – I**

**Background Study : Literary History – Genres – Movements – Ideas – Trends –**

**Concepts**

**UNIT – II**

**1. Francis Bacon : 1.Of Studies, 2.Of Truth, 3.Of Youth and Age**

**2. Joseph Addison : The Coverley Papers (Selected Essays)**

**1. Sir Roger at the Church**

**2. Labour and Exercise**

**UNIT – III**

**3. Jonathan Swift : Gulliver's Travels**

**4. Charles Lamb : 1.Dream Children, 2.The South-Sea House**

**UNIT – IV**

**5. John Milton : Areopagitica**

**6. Bertrand Russell : The Role of Individuality.**

## ProgramSpecificOutcomes(PSOs)

- Familiarizes with the literary history, genres, movements, ideas and concepts of the early British Prose.
- Studies selected prose pieces of English essayists

## Suggested Reading:

- The Cambridge History of English Literature
- Francis Bacon and Renaissance Prose – Brian Vickers, Cambridge University Press
- Seventeenth Century Prose: Modern Essays in Criticism – Stanley Fish, Oxford University Press
- Anatomy of Prose – Marjorie Boulton, Kalyani Publishers, New Delhi
- *The Literature of the Victorian Era – Hugh Walker, S. Chand & Co., New Delhi*
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# Prose

## Unit-1

1. **Of studies**

**2. Of truth**

**3. Of youth and age**

**The Life of Francis Bacon**

Francis Bacon is considered a Renaissance man. He worked as a lawyer and scientist throughout his life (1561-1626.)

Bacon's most valuable work surrounded philosophical and Aristotelian concepts that supported the scientific method. Bacon served as an attorney general as well as lord chancellor of England and received his education from several universities including Trinity College and the University of Cambridge.

Bacon wrote over 50 essays beginning with "Of" in the title and following the concept, such as *Of Truth, Of Atheism* and *Of Discourse*.

**Bacon Facts**

Bacon's uncle was the lord keeper for Queen Elizabeth I. He helped symbolize the approvals for key documents. Additionally:

- Bacon is known as the father of the scientific method which was influenced by his own Baconian method based on reason and observation.
- There are rumors that Bacon was mostly attracted to men, due to his late marriage in life, among other theories.

**Interpretations of 'Of Studies'**

Bacon's essay expresses several comments in *Of Studies* that can be interpreted as the following:

- Studying is helpful for better understanding and provides a knowledge that develops experience, as well as a character that grows.
- Reading provides delight and fun, ornament and showing off, and the ability for success.
- Bacon expanded upon different fields of study depending on one's goal; for example, to master clarity with language, study poetry.

**'Of Studies' Excerpt**

"Studies serve for delight, for ornament, and for ability. Their chief use for delight is in privateness and retiring; for ornament, is in discourse; and for ability, is in the judgment and disposition of business. For expert men can execute, and perhaps judge of particulars, one by one; but the general counsels, and the plots and marshalling of affairs, come best from those that are learned. To spend too much time in studies is sloth; to use them too much for ornament, is affectation; to make judgment wholly by their rules, is the humor of a scholar. They perfect nature, and are perfected by experience: for natural abilities are like natural plants, that need pruning, by study; and studies themselves do give forth directions too much at large, except they be bounded in by experience.

Crafty men condemn studies, simple men admire them, and wise men use them; for they teach not their own use; but that is a wisdom without them, and above them, won by observation. Read not to contradict and confute; nor to believe and take for granted; nor to find talk and discourse; but to weigh and consider. Some books are to be tasted, others to be swallowed, and some few to be chewed and digested; that is, some books are to be read only in parts; others to be read, but not curiously; and some few to be read wholly, and with diligence and attention. Some books also may be read by deputy, and extracts made of them by others; but that would be only in the less important arguments, and the meaner sort of books, else distilled books are like common distilled waters, flashy things.

Reading maketh a full man; conference a ready man; and writing an exact man. And therefore, if a man write little, he had need have a great memory; if he confer little, he had need have a present wit: and if he read little, he had need have much cunning, to seem to know that he doth not. Histories make men wise; poets witty; the mathematics subtle; natural philosophy deep; moral grave; logic and rhetoric able to contend. *Abeunt studia in mores* [Studies pass into and influence manners]. Nay, there is no stone or impediment in the wit but may be wrought out by fit studies; like as diseases of the body may have appropriate exercises.

Bowling is good for the stone and reins; shooting for the lungs and breast; gentle walking for the stomach; riding for the head; and the like. So if a man's wit be wandering, let him study the mathematics; for in demonstrations, if his wit be called away never so little, he must begin again. If his wit be not apt to distinguish or find differences, let him study the Schoolmen; for they are *cymini sectores* [splitters of hairs]. If he be not apt to beat over matters, and to call up one thing to prove and illustrate another, let him study the lawyers' cases. So every defect of the mind may have a special receipt."

Bacon published three editions of his essays (in 1597, 1612, and 1625) and the last two were marked by the addition of more essays. In many cases, they became expanded works from earlier editions. This is the best-known version of the essay *Of Studies*, taken from the 1625 edition of *Essays or Counsels, Civil and Moral.*

Version From the First Edition (1597)

"Studies serve for pastimes, for ornaments, for abilities; their chief use for pastimes is in privateness and retiring; for ornaments in discourse; and for ability in judgment; for expert men can execute, but learned men are more fit to judge and censure. To spend too much time in them is sloth; to use them too much for ornament is affectation; to make judgment wholly by their rules is the humor of a scholar; they perfect nature, and are themselves perfected by experience; crafty men contemn them, wise men use them, simple men admire them; for they teach not their use, but that there is a wisdom without them and above them won by observation. Read not to contradict nor to believe, but to weigh and consider. Some books are to be tasted, others to be swallowed, and some few to be chewed and digested: that is, some are to be read only in parts, others to be read but curiously, and some few to be read wholly with diligence and attention. Reading maketh a full man, conference a ready, and writing an exact man; therefore, if a man write little, he had need of a great memory; if he confer little, he had need of a present wit; and if he read little, he had need have much cunning to seem to know that he doth not know. Histories make wise men; poets witty; the mathematics subtle; natural philosophy deep; moral grave; logic and rhetoric able to contend."

"Of Truth" is the opening essay in the final edition of the philosopher, statesman and jurist Francis Bacon's "Essays or Counsels, Civil and Moral" (1625). In this essay, as associate professor of philosophy Svetozar Minkov points out, Bacon addresses the question of "whether it is worse to lie to others or to oneself--to possess truth (and lie, when necessary, to others) or to think one possesses the truth but be mistaken and hence unintentionally convey falsehoods to both oneself and to others" ("Francis Bacon's 'Inquiry Touching Human Nature,'" 2010). In "Of Truth," Bacon argues that

people have a natural inclination to lie to others: "a natural though corrupt love, of the lie itself."

Of Truth

"What is truth?" said jesting Pilate, and would not stay for an answer. Certainly, there be that delight in giddiness, and count it a bondage to fix a belief, affecting free-will in thinking as well as in acting. And though the sects of philosophers of that kind be gone, yet there remain certain discoursing wits which are of the same veins, though there be not so much blood in them as was in those of the ancients. But it is not only the difficulty and labor which men take in finding out of truth, nor again that when it is found it imposeth upon men's thoughts, that doth bring lies in favor, but a natural though corrupt love of the lie itself. One of the later school of the Grecians examineth the matter, and is at a stand to think what should be in it, that men should love lies where neither they make for pleasure, as with poets, nor for advantage, as with the merchant; but for the lie's sake. But I cannot tell: this same truth is a naked and open daylight that doth not show the masques and mummeries and triumphs of the world half so stately and daintily as candle-lights. Truth may perhaps come to the price of a pearl that showeth best by day; but it will not rise to the price of a diamond or carbuncle, that showeth best in varied lights. A mixture of a lie doth ever add pleasure.

Doth any man doubt that if there were taken out of men's minds vain opinions, flattering hopes, false valuations, imaginations as one would, and the like, but it would leave the minds of a number of men poor shrunken things, full of melancholy and indisposition, and unpleasing to themselves? One of the fathers, in great severity, called poesy *vinum daemonum* [the wine of devils] because it filleth the imagination, and yet it is but with the shadow of a lie. But it is not the lie that passeth through the mind, but the lie that sinketh in and settleth in it that doth the hurt, such as we spake of before. But howsoever these things are thus in men's depraved judgments and affections, yet truth, which only doth judge itself, teacheth that the inquiry of truth, which is the love-making or wooing of it; the knowledge of truth, which is the presence of it; and the belief of truth, which is the enjoying of it, is the sovereign good of human nature.

The first creature of God in the works of the days was the light of the sense; the last was the light of reason; and his Sabbath work ever since is the illumination of his spirit. First he breathed light upon the face of the matter, or chaos; then he breathed light into the face of man; and still he breatheth and inspireth light into the face of his chosen. The poet that beautified the sect that was otherwise inferior to the rest, saith yet excellently well, "It is a pleasure to stand upon the shore, and to see ships tossed upon the sea; a pleasure to stand in the window of a castle, and to see a battle and the adventures thereof below; but no pleasure is comparable to the standing upon the vantage ground of truth (a hill not to be commanded, and where the air is always clear and serene), and to see the errors and wanderings and mists and tempests in the vale below"*; so always that this prospect be with pity, and not with swelling or pride. Certainly it is heaven upon earth to have a man's mind move in charity, rest in providence, and turn upon the poles of truth.

To pass from theological and philosophical truth to the truth of civil business: it will be acknowledged, even by those that practice it not, that clear and round dealing is the honor of man's nature, and that mixture of falsehood is like alloy in coin of gold and silver, which may make the metal work the better, but it embaseth it. For these winding

and crooked courses are the goings of the serpent, which goeth basely upon the belly and not upon the feet.

There is no vice that doth so cover a man with shame as to be found false and perfidious; and therefore Montaigne saith prettily, when he inquired the reason why the word of the lie should be such a disgrace and such an odious charge. Saith he, "If it be well weighed, to say that a man lieth, is as much as to say that he is brave towards God, and a coward towards man." For a lie faces God, and shrinks from man. Surely the wickedness of falsehood and breach of faith cannot possibly be so highly expressed as in that it shall be the last peal to call the judgments of God upon the generations of men: it being foretold that when Christ cometh, "He shall not find faith upon the earth."

*Bacon's paraphrase of the opening lines of Book II of "On the Nature of Things" by Roman poet Titus Lucretius Carus.

**Francis Bacon Of Youth and Age Summary**

In the essay, "**Of Youth and Age**", **Francis Bacon** finds out the difference between the nature and characteristics of the youth and aged person. A man who is young in age may have a mature mind if he devotes all his time of acquire knowledge and experience. But such case is seldom seen. Naturally, young men are not so 'prudent and sagacious like the old men, but they have a more inventive and more active mind which aged persons fail to have. Imaginations flow better into the minds of youths.

Some illogical and unbridled natures of youth age prevent the young men to do properly. So, a young man becomes suitable for action when he reaches at the middle age. Julius Caesar was this type of man whose great achievements in life were done in mature age. The same happened to Septimius Severus, the Roman Emperor, who spent a youth full of errors. But when he grew older, he became the ablest emperor.

Young men of calm and quiet nature however, may do much well even in their early age. Examples of such kind of man may be made of **Augustus Caesar**, the first Roman Emperor, Cosmus, governor of Florence, and Gaston de Fois, one of Charlemagne's Knights. All of them became famous in their youth. If an old man has energy and liveliness in his disposition, he can achieve the summit of success in business because warm spirit and vivacity act excellently for business

Young men are more fickle minded than the old men. Young men are, therefore, more competent to invent than to judge, more fit for action than for consultation and more suitable to establish new projects than to deal with old business which has been already set up. But, in comparison with them, old men are not suitable to take up new projects because the experiences of an old man assist him to carry on his old business but misguide him in new project of which he has no experience. The errors done by young men bring ultimate ruin in business, but the errors done by aged persons make delay in progress because old men can, somehow, manage their mistakes.

The men of young age do everything thoughtlessly and illogically driven by emotion. They hold more projects than they can actually achieve. They rush to attain the end without finishing the intermediary steps and various considerable stages. They depend

whole heartedly on some few principles which they have gained by-chance. Young men are not careful to invent something new which will give him troubles. They use so many methods without taking a trial of them at first. Moreover, they neither acknowledge their mistakes, nor restrain the errors.

Also Read:

- **Critical Analysis of Francis Bacon's Essay, Of Friendship**
- **Of Study by Francis Bacon | Summary**
- **Of Truth by Francis Bacon | Summary, Analysis, Explanations**

The old men have some different sides of their nature. They complain and object too much on a proposed project. They consult for long and hesitate to take any risk. Yet they have no patience to continue their business till the end because they become satisfied with little profit. But it will be the best if the project or business consists of both old and young employees. In such case, the virtues of both will help to check the defects of both. Not only that, for the time being, the young men will learn a good deal from the experience of the old. The combined business will achieve the great success for another reason : authority will come from the old man, and favour and popularity from the young.

In one respect young men are superior to the old people. Young people can observe visions, while old men dream so much. Therefore, as the young men are capable of discerning visions, they reach nearer to God than the old men. It is because visions are sublime, infinite and celestial, but the dreams are terrestrial, limited within the brief span. The more a man gathers experience of this world, the more he will be worldly and wise in his outlook. Thus, the aged people have more the power of understanding than the power of will and affections which young people retain.

There are some persons who gain maturity before reaching at their mature age, but they soon decline to be dull headed, just like the metal of good edge that becomes soon blunt. Such was the ancient rhetorician, Hermogenes who in his early life wrote subtle books, but he, in his later age lost the power of creation and became stupid. Then, there are some people whose natural dispositions have better grace in youth than in old age. Hortensius belonged to this class of men. He did not change, but a change would have become him. The people belonging to the third category are those who undertake a very elevated attitude at first, but they cannot maintain it till the last. Such type of man was Scipio Alliricanus, the Roman general, whose end was inferior to the beginning.

**Sir Roger at Church Summary**

The essay, **Sir Roger at Church**, was first published in "**The Spectator**" on 9th July, 1711 AD wherein the author told us about the importance of Sunday for the villagers and Sir Roger acted on the Sundays as a churchman. The Sundays, the author surmised, should be observed absolutely as a holiday by the people, wherever they be. For the villagers, however, the Sundays have greater values because if observed properly, it is the best method for making one courteous and cultured. Not only for the villagers, it is

rather the best method for all the people of the world and of all nations. The Christians and the English people observe the Sunday as essentially a holiday.

On such a Sunday, a holiday Addison had been in a village. There he realised what importance a Sunday usually has in a village. A Sunday comes after every six weekdays, the working days, and on this day the villagers go to the church where they meet with other villagers, their neighbours and distant relations. Since the day is a holiday the villagers wear the best dress they have and always remain in cheerful mood. They talk with one another on many topics and on many subjects. The most striking thing is, on this day the subjects which the villagers discuss among themselves have no relation at all with their personal matters. Very patiently they hear the sermon of the clergy. The clergy in his sermon tells them what their duty to the society is. What duties they should perform towards their own family, what obedience they should show and what duties they are to perform towards the religion and above all to God. The sermon impresses the villager and they hear it patiently. After hearing the sermon they sing together to praise and worship God. All these things have a good effect on the villagers. These make them courteous and cultured. Generally the villagers are not very polished or sophisticated. But they become courteous and cultured only by going to the church.

The Sunday is remarkable for other reason also. The whole week's labourious life and work make the people unclean in their hearts. They cannot think right things properly. The Sundays remove this dirt from their thoughts. For the whole week the villagers have to work hard to earn their bare subsistence even. They are surrounded with so much worldly cares that they have very little diversion or amusements in their lives. Naturally, they cannot think clearly. They become selfish, ill treating, rough mannered, an easy prey for vices. The Sunday helps them to get rid of all these vices. They hear the clergyman's sermon and listen good advices. The clergyman's sermon reminds them of their duties towards their own family, towards the society, to the religion and God. This helps them to refresh their idea of religion in their minds. Thus the Sundays simply brighten their minds and ideas of duty and religion which the week's toil had already made dim.

Apart from these, the Sundays encouraged both men and women at their best. On this day they try to show all their good qualities, that they possess. They try to show their importance to the other fellow villagers. Addison opined that as the Royal Exchange of London is a good place for the merchants likewise the churchyard on Sunday's is a good place for the villagers. Talking lofty things about his success in the market a businessman tries to show his importance to the other businessmen in the Royal Exchange of London. In the same way a villager talks about different subjects while he meets other fellow villagers on the church compound on Sunday and tries to establish his importance within their mind. Within this church compound, the villagers discuss all the politics of their ecclesiastical division which they do either before hearing the clergyman's sermon or after hearing it.

**Sir Roger de Coverley** was a very good churchman and a strong supporter of the rights, customs and interest of the church as he was a religious man. He took great interest in the village church and carefully looked that his tenants attended the church regularly. He was careful about the beautification of the church and decorated the inner part of the church of his parish with many beautiful and significant lines from the Bible

which he himself had carefully selected. He had given a beautiful cloth to cover the pulpit and built a railing in front of the communion table at his own cost. He had often told the author how much indifferent the people of his parish were towards the religion and the church. Sir Roger was a rich man and had inherited a landed property in Worcestershire sometimes back. So he went there to settle permanently. He found that the villagers of that parish were very irregular to go to the church and he took serious note of it. He wanted that every one of that village should go to the church and must kneel down in prayer.

In order to attract the villagers in the church and make them to go there, he gave, at his own cost, every one of them a cushion for kneeling on and a common prayer book. He also engaged a singer who went from place to place, to sing religious song in the church. He advised the singer to teach the villagers how to sing the religious songs correctly. The singer was doing his task perfectly and remained busy in doing that. He went about the parish and taught the people how to sing the religious songs properly. He was successful in his work and the people could now sing the songs correctly for which they themselves were proud too. The author Addison had heard their songs too and it appeared to him that the people of that parish sing far better than the people of many other country churches. The credit for this was obviously of Sir Roger de Coverley's.

Sir Roger was the master of all the villagers who attended the Church. He always kept the assembly in the church in strict discipline and good decorum. He never allowed any one to sleep during the sermon. But the moment he was awaken he very cautiously looked to others and if found any one asleep on dozing, he himself waked them up or sent his servants to wake them up Addison told us that besides these Sir Roger had many other peculiarities. These were often exhibited when he was present at the church at the time of prayer. During the prayer psalms were sung by the people present there and Sir Roger too, used to sing with them. But sometimes, though the others had stopped singing, he sang the line continuously. Sometimes again, when the subject matter of the prayer pleased him he said 'Amen' three or four times even after ii. Often when all persons were kneeling, and praying, Sir Roger stood alone to count the number of people present and counting to note if anyone was absent. If he felt that any one man was disturbing the service, he even called that person to order in the middle of the service. Addison told us about an incident which exhibited Sir Roger's great authority over the tenants. Addison saw it himself when one day he went to the church with Sir Roger. Among the tenants of Sir Roger present in the church was a villager, John Matthews. Sir Roger was very much angry with him and scolded Matthews even when the sermon was going on. He asked Matthews to behave properly and never to disturb the people who gather in the church. Matthews was an idle man and everyone knew it. He often misbehaved in the gathering. Idly he was knocking his heels together to amuse himself but that disturbed others. When Sir Roger scolded him Matthews became silent.

This trifle incident proved that Sir Roger had tremendous influence over his tenants. He had complete authority over his subjects and he exercised that authority in a typical way. Yet that produced good effect on the villagers who were not at all well behaved and polished mannered people. His subjects the villagers blindly obeyed his order and never thought that he was behaving in a funny way. But his friends saw his behaviour

from a different angle. They found peculiarities in him yet they all admired his common sense and goodness of character. They took his peculiarities not as his defects but as the greater brilliance to his good qualities and good character.

The sermon finished and all the people were eagerly awaiting for the departure of Sir Roger. Sir Roger stood up from his seat in the chancel, where he used to seat and walked through two rows of his tenants who were standing up on either side and bowed their heads to show him respect while he was passing. Among these people he could not found a few men and women. He stopped and enquired about their health. But this was not a mere enquiry. Rather, it was a kind of secret reprimand for their absence. Sir Roger was, indeed, deeply interested in religion and church. Out of this interest, he used different methods to encourage the children and the young men and the clerk of the church to do their religious duty properly and with care. On a particular day the children were examined in their knowledge of Bible by means of different questions and answers on the holy Book.

When a boy's knowledge of the Bible pleased Sir Roger he used to give the boy a copy of the Bible. Sometimes a slice of roasted pig was also sent along with the Bible to the boy's mother. This act obviously encouraged both the young boy and his mother. He had also increased the salary of the clerk of the church by five pounds a year so that the clerk was encouraged to do his work seriously and sincerely. He wanted that the young men should be fully able to take their service in the church. He, as such, often tried to encourage them by saying that the clerk's office in the church would be given to the ablest man in future.

Sir Roger had quite a friendly relation with his chaplain. Both had recognized the good of the other, and agreed each other in doing good to the villagers. They had, indeed, an appreciable cordial relation between them. This good relation between the landlord and the parson was generally not found in the very next village. They always had differences of opinion and often argued against each other which usually left them in constant rivalry and conflict. The parson always spoke against the landlord and the latter to take revenge, never visited the church, rather made all the subjects non-believers in God and religion. Even due to his instigation the tenants became defaulters in paying the tithes to the parson and never paid him the tenth part of their income.

So, the clergyman became very angry to the landlord and on every Sunday, he used to tell the people assembled in the church to hear his sermon that he was a far better man than the landlord, having much of honour and importance in his post. This ill feelings between the landlord and the parson had reached to such an extent that parson always threatened the landlord and the landlord too did not make prayer either in public or private for a long time just to show his negligence to the parson. Eventually the parson threatened the landlord that if the latter failed to show more respect to religion and the church, the parson then would pray to God in presence of all the persons gathered in the church to pronounce the landlord an unrepentant sinner.

Now Addison, the author, gave us his own opinion about the undesirability of such quarrels between the squires or landlords and the parsons in the villages, though such a quarrel was very common in the rural areas. It had an obvious bad effect on the common men.

This is because the common villagers are bewildered by seeing the wealth of the rich men while they equally respect a learned man, the priest. There are many rich men who earn five hundred pounds a year and thus, being rich they believe that the teachings taught by the priests carry no meaning or truth. The common people simply follow what these moneyed men say and hence when they go to the church they hear the priest talking, but never care of what he was speaking, neither believe the truth of his talks. This only degrades the high position of the priesthood.

- **Addison's Prose Style in Sir Roger at Home**
  **Sir Roger at Church Analysis**

1. **Sunday…….. village.**
   Joseph Addison, the great English essayist in his remarkable piece of work, Sir Roger at Church laid greater stress to the importance of Sunday as a holiday, specially in the villages. He told us that in his opinion the Sunday should be a holy day for all the people of the world. In the above lines the essayist told us the special importance of Sunday to the villagers of England. The Sunday practically removed the dirt from the minds and thoughts of villagers that they pile up throughout the week's hard labour and toil. They have to work hard for the remaining six days of the week to earn their bare subsistence and always have to look for worldly care and self interest.

   This makes them selfish and rough in their manners. On each Sunday the villagers go to the church and hear the sermons of the clergyman in which they are given good advices about their duties and responsibilities towards their own family, their society, towards the religion, church and God. All these are good advices and since the villagers have no other diversion or amusement these advices speak good on them. Their coating of selfish, narrow mindedness is brushed off with clear ideas and they brighten their minds with fresh ideas of religion and responsibilities. It's a kind of rebirth for them. Moreover, on Sunday both men and women appear in their most pleasant form in the church. They wear their best dress to show them good looking and dignified. Being present in the church they try to show all their best qualities and discussing on many things and topics try to show them will acquainted with everything and also try to make themselves important in the eyes of their fellow villagers. Thus, the Sunday sermons practically refresh the minds of the villagers. They become courteous and cultured.

2. **A country fellow……..bell rings.**
   In his essay 'Sir Roger at Church', Joseph Addison, the essayist told as about his belief that Sunday, as holiday, is a blessing for the villagers. This is the day when the villagers go to the church and hear the sermon of the clergyman which speaks them about their duties towards their families, society, religion and God. They hear it patiently and giving up their selfishness and rough manner clean themselves with civilized and cultured manners. The Sunday church is important and significant to the villagers for another reason too. This is the day when all the villagers meet each other in the church compound. They put on their best dresses to make them look beautiful and smart. Both men and women appear fresh and jubilant. They talk on different topics and subjects and try to appear before others as an important great man. Addison, the author, compared a village. Sunday church compound with that of the London Royal Exchange.

In the Royal Exchange a merchant shows his greatness or importance by talking about his merchandise or about his ability in business activities and transactions and eulogizes himself in such manner so that the fellow businessmen appreciate his ability and worth. He thus become an important figure to them. Likewise, the villagers show their greatness or importance to the fellow villagers by talking about impersonal matters. The matters they discuss generally are related to the politics to the whole ecclesiastical division. They discuss on the subjects not on their own merit, neither on their own knowledge. Rather they discuss about them either after hearing the sermon delivered by the priest or before hearing it. If they talk before hearing the sermon they stop talking when the bell rung to call them inside the church to hear the sermon of the priest.

3. **The general good……..good qualities.**
Joseph, Addison depicted Sir Roger-de-Coverley, in his essay 'Sir Roger at Church,' as a fine churchman Sir Roger was a religious man and never tolerated any indiscipline in the church. If ever he found any one disturbing the congregation in the church he warned him instantly. In one such occasion, he even warned and scolded John Matthews, a villager, and an idle fellow, who was knocking his hills together to amuse himself but disturbing others during prayer time. Sir Roger warned him to behave properly. This incident shows one of the peculiarities of Sir Roger's behaviour. He had many other peculiarities as well. His friends knew about the peculiarities of his behaviour. But they do not think much on it because they knew that Sir Roger possessed many good qualities and good common senses as well. So they do not consider the peculiarities as his defects. Rather they believed that these peculiarities, on the other hand, have acted as foil that sharpened and brightened many of his good qualities and senses.

4. **Sir Roger has……to merit.**
In his essay 'Sir Roger at Church', the author essayist, Joseph Addison told us how much Sir Roger was interested to see the church functioning properly. He adopted different methods to attract the people, especially the children and young man to the religion and church. For this on many occasions he tested the children's knowledge on Bible and the boy who could satisfy him usually received a Bible from him Sometimes he also gave a slice of roasted pig along with the Bible to the boy's mother to give them encouragement. In order to make the clerk of the church discharge his duties more efficiently and properly he had increased his salary by five pounds a year.

It encouraged the young clerk no doubt, and by encouraging him Sir Roger practically encouraged the whole younger generation of his tenants. He wanted these young men to join the church service. Since the present working clerk was getting old and would not be able to work long, Sir Roger assured his young tenants that one of them would surely be appointed in his place. Yet he placed one condition that such appointment would be made only on the basis of merit and the post would be given to a really deserving candidate.

5. **Feuds of…….believe it.**
In his essay "Sir Roger at Church" Joseph Addison, the author, drew a vivid pen-picture of the rift that was very common in the villages between the landlord and the parson of the church. Sir Roger himself was a landlord, yet his relation with his parson was very cordial. But in the village next to Sir Roger's village, the relation between the

squire and parson was so strained that they were almost at daggers drawn to each other. Their quarrel never come to an end: But this type of quarrel between the landlord and the priests were so common feature in the country side of England that it virtually had a very bad effect on the common people of the area.

These common people respect both the rich man, the landlord, for his money and wealth, as well as the priest for his depth of knowledge which they hear with respect and awe when he delivers his sermons. They can hardly distinguish between a rich man and a learned man. In the event of such unwanted conflict going on before their eyes, the common men will never respect the priest, neither will hear his sermons attentively or attach any importance to it. They believe only the rich men and there are many rich men who earn more than five hundred pounds a year. These people do not believe the sermons of the priests and neither the common people will

**2. Joseph Addison's**
**Labour and Exercise**

BODILY Labour is of two Kinds, either that which a Man submits to for his Livelihood, or that which he undergoes for his Pleasure. The latter of them generally changes the Name of Labour for that of Exercise, but differs only from ordinary Labour as it rises from another Motive.

A Country Life abounds in both these kinds of Labour, and for that Reason gives a Man a greater Stock of Health, and consequently a more perfect Enjoyment of himself, than any other Way of Life. I consider the Body as a System of Tubes and Glands, or to use a more Rustick Phrase, a Bundle of Pipes and Strainers, fitted to one another after so wonderful a Manner as to make a proper Engine for the Soul to work with. This Description does not only comprehend the Bowels, Bones, Tendons, Veins, Nerves and Arteries, but every Muscle, and every Ligature, which is a Composition of Fibres, that are so many imperceptible Tubes or Pipes interwoven on all sides with invisible Glands or Strainers.

This general Idea of a Human Body, without considering it in its Niceties of Anatomy, lets us see how absolutely necessary Labour is for the right Preservation of it. There must be frequent Motions and Agitations, to mix, digest, and separate the Juices contained in it, as well as to clear and cleanse that Infinitude of Pipes and Strainers of which it is composed, and to give their solid Parts a more firm and lasting Tone. Labour or Exercise ferments the Humours, casts them into their proper Channels, throws off Redundancies, and helps Nature in those secret Distributions, without which the Body cannot subsist in its Vigour, nor the Soul act with Chearfulness.

I might here mention the Effects which this has upon all the Faculties of the Mind, by keeping the Understanding clear, the Imagination untroubled, and refining those Spirits that are necessary for the proper Exertion of our intellectual Faculties, during the present Laws of Union between Soul and Body. It is to a Neglect in this Particular that we must ascribe the Spleen, which is so frequent in Men of studious and sedentary Tempers, as well as the Vapours to which those of the other Sex are so often subject.

Had not Exercise been absolutely necessary for our Wellbeing, Nature would not have made the Body so proper for it, by giving such an Activity to the Limbs, and such a Pliancy to every part as necessarily produce those Compressions, Extentions, Contortions, Dilatations, and all other kinds of that are necessary for the Preservation of such a System of Tubes and Glands as has been before mentioned. And that we might not want Inducements to engage us in such an Exercise of the Body as is proper for its Welfare, it is so ordered that nothing valuable can be procured without it. Not to mention Riches and Honour, even Food and. Raiment are not to be come at without the Toil of the Hands and Sweat of the Brows. Providence furnishes Materials, but expects that we should work them up our selves. The Earth must be laboured before it gives its Encrease, and when it is forced into its several Products, how many Hands must they pass through before they are fit for Use? Manufactures, Trade, and Agriculture, naturally employ more than nineteen Parts of the Species in twenty; and as for those who are not obliged to Labour, by the Condition in which they are born, they are more miserable than the rest of Mankind, unless they indulge themselves in that voluntary Labour which goes by the Name of Exercise.

My Friend Sir ROGER has been an indefatigable Man in Business of this kind, and has hung several Parts of his House with the Trophies of his former Labours. The Walls of his great Hall are covered with the Horns of several kinds of Deer that he has killed in the Chace, which he thinks the most valuable Furniture of his House, as they afford him frequent Topicks of Discourse, and shew that he has not been Idle. At the lower End of the Hall, is a large Otter's Skin stuffed with Hay, which his Mother ordered to be hung up in that manner, and the Knight looks upon with great Satisfaction, because it seems he was but nine Years old when his Dog killed him. A little Room adjoining to the Hall is a kind of Arsenal filled with Guns of several Sizes and Inventions, with which the Knight has made great Havock in the Woods, and destroyed many thousands of Pheasants, Partridges and Wood-cocks.

His Stable Doors are patched with Noses that belonged to Foxes of the Knight's own hunting down. Sir ROGER shewed me one of them that for Distinction sake has a Brass Nail struck through it, which cost him about fifteen Hours riding, carried him through half a dozen Counties, killed him a Brace of Geldings, and lost above half his Dogs. This the Knight looks upon as one of the greatest Exploits of his Life. The perverse Widow, whom I have given some Account of, was the Death of several Foxes; for Sir ROGER has told me that in the Course of his Amours he patched the Western Door of his Stable. Whenever the Widow was cruel, the Foxes were sure to pay for it. In proportion as his Passion for the Widow abated and old Age came on, he left off Fox-hunting; but a Hare is not yet safe that Sits within ten Miles of his House.

There is no kind of Exercise which I would so recommend to my Readers of both Sexes as this of Riding, as there is none which so much conduces to Health, and is every way accommodated to the Body, according to the *Idea* which I have given of it. Doctor *Sydenham* is very lavish in its Praises; and if the *English* Reader will see the Mechanical Effects of it describ'd at length, he may find them in a Book published not many Years since, under the Title of *Medicina Gymnastica*. For my own part, when I am in Town, for want of these Opportunities, I exercise myself an hour every Morning upon a dumb Bell that is placed in a Corner of my Room, and pleases me the more because it does every thing I require of it in the most profound Silence. My Landlady

and her Daughters are so well acquainted with my Hours of Exercise, that they never come into my Room to disturb me whilst I am ringing.

When I was some Years younger than I am at present, I used to employ myself in a more laborious Diversion, which I learned from a *Latin* Treatise of Exercises that is written with great Erudition: It is there called the σκιομαχια , or the fighting with a Man's own Shadow, and consists in the brandishing of two short Sticks grasped in each Hand, and loaden with Plugs of Lead at either End. This opens the Chest, exercises the Limbs, and gives a Man all the Pleasure of Boxing, without the Blows. I could wish that several Learned Men would lay out that Time which they employ in Controversies and Disputes about nothing, in this Method of fighting with their own Shadows. It might conduce very much to evaporate the Spleen, which makes them uneasy to the Publick as well as to themselves.

**Gulliver's Travels**, original title **Travels into Several Remote Nations of the World**, four-part satirical work by Anglo-Irish author Jonathan Swift, published anonymously in 1726 as *Travels into Several Remote Nations of the World*. A keystone of English literature, it is one of the books that contributed to the emergence of the novel as a literary form in English. A parody of the then popular travel narrative, *Gulliver's Travels* combines adventure with savage satire, mocking English customs and the politics of the day.

**Summary**

*Gulliver's Travels* is a first-person narrative that is told from the point of view of Lemuel Gulliver, a surgeon and sea captain who visits remote regions of the world, and it describes four adventures. In the first one, Gulliver is the only survivor of a shipwreck, and he swims to Lilliput, where he is tied up by people who are less than 6 inches (15 cm) tall. He is then taken to the capital city and eventually released. The Lilliputians' small size mirrors their small-mindedness. They indulge in ridiculous customs and petty debates. Political affiliations, for example, are divided between men who wear high-heeled shoes (symbolic of the English Tories) and those who wear low ones (representing the English Whigs), and court positions are filled by those who are best at rope dancing. Gulliver is asked to help defend Lilliput against the empire of Blefuscu, with which Lilliput is at war over which end of an egg should be broken, this being a matter of religious doctrine. Gulliver captures Blefuscu's naval fleet, thus preventing an invasion, but declines to assist the emperor of Lilliput in conquering Blefuscu. Later Gulliver extinguishes a fire in the royal palace by urinating on it. Eventually he falls out of favour and is sentenced to be blinded and starved. He flees to Blefuscu, where he finds a normal-size boat and is thus able to return to England.

Gulliver in Brobdingnag

Gulliver's second voyage takes him to Brobdingnag, inhabited by a race of giants. A farm worker finds Gulliver and delivers him to the farm owner. The farmer begins exhibiting Gulliver for money, and the farmer's young daughter, Glumdalclitch, takes care of him. One day the queen orders the farmer to bring Gulliver to her, and she purchases Gulliver. He becomes a favourite at court, though the king reacts with contempt when Gulliver recounts the splendid achievements of his own

civilization. The king responds to Gulliver's description of the government and history of England by concluding that the English must be a race of "odious vermin." Gulliver offers to make gunpowder and cannon for the king, but the king is horrified by the thought of such weaponry. Eventually Gulliver is picked up by an eagle and then rescued at sea by people of his own size.

On Gulliver's third voyage he is set adrift by pirates and eventually ends up on the flying island of Laputa. The people of Laputa all have one eye pointing inward and the other upward, and they are so lost in thought that they must be reminded to pay attention to the world around them. Though they are greatly concerned with mathematics and with music, they have no practical applications for their learning. Laputa is the home of the king of Balnibarbri, the continent below it. Gulliver is permitted to leave the island and visit Lagado, the capital city of Balnibarbri. He finds the farm fields in ruin and the people living in apparent squalor. Gulliver's host explains that the inhabitants follow the prescriptions of a learned academy in the city, where the scientists undertake such wholly impractical projects as extracting sunbeams from cucumbers. Later Gulliver visits Glubbdubdrib, the island of sorcerers, and there he speaks with great men of the past and learns from them the lies of history. In the kingdom of Luggnagg he meets the struldbrugs, who are immortal but age as though they were mortal and are thus miserable. From Luggnagg he is able to sail to Japan and thence back to England.

Gulliver in the kingdom of the Houyhnhnms

In the fourth part, Gulliver visits the land of the Houyhnhnms, a race of intelligent horses who are cleaner and more rational, communal, and benevolent (they have, most tellingly, no words for deception or evil) than the brutish, filthy, greedy, and degenerate humanoid race called Yahoos, some of whom they have tamed—an ironic twist on the human-beast relationship. The Houyhnhnms are very curious about Gulliver, who seems to be both a Yahoo and civilized, but, after Gulliver describes his country and its history to the master Houyhnhnm, the Houyhnhnm concludes that the people of England are not more reasonable than the Yahoos. At last it is decided that Gulliver must leave the Houyhnhnms. Gulliver then returns to England, so disgusted with humanity that he avoids his family and buys horses and converses with them instead.

29. **Analysis**

Considered Swift's masterpiece, *Gulliver's Travels* is the most brilliant as well as the most bitter and controversial of his satires. Written in a matter-of-fact style and with an air of sober reality, the work defeats oversimple explanations. Is it essentially comic, or is it a misanthropic depreciation of humankind? Swift certainly seems to use the various races and societies Gulliver encounters in his travels to satirize many of the errors, follies, and frailties that human beings are prone to. The warlike, disputatious, but essentially trivial Lilliputians in the first section and the deranged impractical pedants and intellectuals in the third segment are shown as imbalanced beings lacking common sense and even decency. The Houyhnhnms, by contrast, are the epitome of reason and virtuous simplicity. However, Gulliver's own proud identification with these horses and his subsequent disdain for his fellow humans indicates that he too has become imbalanced and that human beings are simply incapable of aspiring to the virtuous rationality that Gulliver has glimpsed.

## Reprints and adaptations

*Gulliver's Travels* proved so popular upon its publication that several reprints, each with minor changes in text, were published within a few months. A new edition was released in 1735 that included allegory not found in the 1726 versions; this edition is generally, though not universally, regarded as the more authentic version. Though there has been debate and controversy as to the objects of Swift's satire and the allegorical meaning of the book, in particular in the latter two adventures, the popularity of the work has never been in doubt. Its enduring appeal is such that several terms from the book entered common lexicon. Perhaps most notable is *yahoo,* which widely means a crass or stupid person.

Film adaptations of *Gulliver's Travels* have tended to focus on the first two stories. They include an animated film (1939) produced by the Fleischer brothers, a 1977 partially animated musical version starring Richard Harris as Gulliver, and a 2010 family comedy featuring Jack Black in the lead role. In addition, a two-part television movie starring Ted Danson was released in 1996.

## Charless lamb's Dream Childern

## Introduction

Written about a dream world, the essay Dream Children by Charles Lamb belongs to his famous work Essays of Elia (1823) published in London magazines. Referring to himself by the pseudonym Elia, Lamb has penned down the essays as personal accounts of his life devoid of any didactic or moral lessons.

Enriched with humour, pathos and regret for the time long gone, Lamb's essays leave an everlasting impression on the minds and hearts of the readers.

## Summary

Charles Lamb begins his essay Dream Children by describing to his young children Alice and John the tales of his childhood when he used to live with his great-grandmother, Mrs Field. In a nostalgic tone, Lamb narrates to the children the humorous details of his time spent in his great grandmother's house; the love between the two brothers, Charles and John, their frequent wanderings and mischiefs in the grand house and their memories of the Orchid trees and the fish pond.

The tone of the essay shifts from humorous to tragic when Lamb describes the death of his beloved brother and great-grandmother whom he loses at an early age of his life. The essayist's unfulfilled longings and desires are also evident in his work when he narrates to the children the events and incidents from his past life.

of

**Conclusion**

The essay ends with Elia's children begging him to tell them stories of their mother instead of their uncle.

Enriched with pathos, the essay describes the importance of childhood and the dear ones in the life of an individual without whom the world appears to be a dark alley suffocating the individual at every turn.

*"We are not of Alice, nor of thee, nor are we children at all. The children of Alice call Bartrum father. We are nothing; less than nothing, and dreams. We are only what might have been, and must wait upon the tedious shores of Lethe millions of ages before we have existence, and a name."*

**Summary-2**

Children love to listen to stories of their elders as children, the essay begins, because they get to imagine those elders that they themselves cannot meet. Elia's children gather around him to hear stories about their great-grandmother Field, who lived in a mansion that she cared for on behalf of a rich family who lived in a different mansion. Young Alice scoffs at Elia's recollection of that rich person removing a detailed wood carving depicting the story of the Children in the Wood to put up an ugly marble thing instead.
At Field's funeral, Elia recounts, everyone praised her goodness and religious faith: she could recite Psalms and some of the New Testament from memory. She was a great dancer until she was stricken by cancer, but even in the grip of that disease, she didn't lose any of her good spirits. She was convinced that two ghosts of infants lived in her house, but she didn't consider them harmful, so it didn't bother her much. But the young Elia was terrified of them, and always needed help getting to sleep, even though he never saw them.

The young Elia used to wander the grounds of that mansion admiring all of the marble busts and wondering when he may himself turn into one. He spent his days picking the various fruit from around the grounds of the estate. Elia breaks from his recollection to notice his children John and Alice splitting a plate of grapes.

Elia continues that Field loved all of her grandchildren, but especially Elia's elder brother John L., a handsome and great-spirited young man who rode horses from a young age. John used to carry Elia around on his back when the younger brother became lame-footed. When John fell ill, Elia felt he wasn't able to care for his brother as well as when John had cared for him, and when John died, Elia was reserved in emotion but consumed by a great sorrow. At this point in the telling, Elia's children start to cry, asking not to hear about their uncle, but to hear about their dead mother instead.

So Elia begins by telling them of the seven years he spent courting their mother Alice, with all of its difficulties and rejection. But when he goes to look at his daughter Alice,

she has disappeared. A disembodied voice tells Elia that they are not Alice's children, that the real father of Alice's children is a man named Bartrum, and they are just dreams. With that, Elia wakes up in his arm–chair, with Bridget by his side, and John L. gone forever.

**Analysis**

"Dream Children" is a formally unique essay, channeling the logic and flow of a dream in a series of long sentences of strung together phrases and no paragraph breaks to be found. Lamb deftly uses these stylistic conceits to pull the reader into a reverie, creating a sense of tumbling through this dream world with its series of dovetailing tangents. In fact, the essay could prove confusing and hard to navigate until the reader gets to the end when, with a savvy twist, Lamb explains the formal oddness of the yarn he has been spinning all along. We're ripped out of this odd dream state into the most familiar state Lamb can be found in—sitting next to his sister.

To some extent, this piece blurs genre lines between essay and fiction. Commonly, we understand essays to be works of non-fiction, but in this one Lamb uses his typical interior-facing autobiographical approach to make room for a fictional narrative inside of a dream. The fact that his children exist is a fiction, as is the idea that he married Alice, as may be the existence and deaths of Field and John L. We know that the real life Charles had a brother John Lamb, but in choosing the rare occasion to write of his real life brother inside of this vivid dream, Lamb seems to be choosing to write about a fantasized version of his real life.

In his book *Metaphors of Self: The Meaning of Autobiography*, the literary theorist James Olney says that the most fruitful approach a writer can take in an autobiography is not to follow a formal or historical one but to, "see it in relation to the vital impulse to order that has always caused man to create and that, in the end, determines both the nature and the form of what he creates." This explanation of autobiography rings true generally of Charles Lamb's work, but doubly so with "Dream Children." Here, Lamb models his essay on a dream, bringing the fantasy that fuels his creative energies to the fore, blurring the lines between that fantasy of his past life and that life to which he dedicates his writing practice.

## 2. South Sea House

### 30. South Sea House

The story is about the memories that often linger longer than the characters that made them. Among the characters of such stories are places and buildings that provide the scene for interactions and activities. Often people may forget such places even though they may stay unmoved. The story is about the memories that often linger longer than the characters that made them. Among the characters of such stories are places and buildings that provide the scene for interactions and activities. Often people may forget such places even though they may stay unmoved.

One such building is the South Sea House. The writer narrates his tale of the place lived through many people he had the honour of meeting in it. They may be long gone but their memories are still buried in the walls of the Sea House.

The story begins with an account of the glorious past of an old but splendid building on the banks of England. Overlooking the waters, the place was once a hotbed of trade with people from all sorts of businesses converging to exchange their supplies and make profits. The place which is dead quiet now was once vibrant with hopes, noise and optimism.

The writer remembers working in the place as a young man and seeing other young aspiring men toil and frolic in the place. It is almost half a decade later than he finds the silence and deathly inactivity of the place comforting and nostalgic.

[illegible]

On the other hand, his deputy Thomas was arrogant and boastful. But all his pomp was in stark contrast to his meagre means as he and his wife struggled to make ends meet.

Then comes Tip, the man with the accounts. He was boring and self-disciplined. He always played safe but had a soft spot for the disprivileged kids of the world. Then was Henry the writer who was intelligent and eloquent and Maynard who was a skilled singer.

**UNIT-IV**
**AREOPEGITICA**

This controversial pamphlet, entitled *Areopagitica* was written by John Milton in 1644. It argues against the censorship of books before their publication, and is often held up as the first impassioned plea for free speech.

Milton celebrates the vitality of books and condemns their destruction, saying one might ‘as good almost kill a Man as kill a good Book’ (p. 4). Ironically, two of Milton’s books were later suppressed and burnt in the reign of Charles II.

Milton says that we should be trusted to read different ideas in print and use reason to choose between them, rather than having temptation removed through censorship: ‘What wisdome can there be to choose … without the knowledge of evill?’ (p. 12). He draws on the biblical story of the Garden of Eden, where Adam and Eve sin by tasting the forbidden fruit. Although some people might blame God for allowing Adam to ‘transgresse’, Milton praises him for giving humans ‘freedom to choose, for reason is but choosing’ (p. 17).

**How does *Areopagitica* relate to *Paradise Lost*?**

In *Paradise Lost* (1667) these arguments around freedom and reason are voiced by God the Father, who says he made man ‘just and right’ but also ‘free to fall’.

Without freedom, man's love for God would be mere obligation, rather than 'true allegiance'. Man must use 'Will and Reason' – 'Reason also is Choice' (3.98–99; 104; 108).

**What does the title mean?**

The pamphlet is presented as a speech 'to the Parlament of England' in the reign of Charles I, but Milton also invokes the idea of ancient Greek democracy. His title, *Areopagitica* comes from the Greek *Areopagus* – a hill where the Council of Athens met, and St Paul delivered a sermon.

**What prompted Milton to write the pamphlet?**

State control of printing was introduced by Henry VIII and continued into the 17th century. In April 1638, political agitator John Lilburne was arrested for importing subversive books. He was fined £500 and flogged for the two miles between the Fleet Prison and the pillory. Milton wrote his pamphlet as a protest against Lilburne's treatment.

In fact, *Areopagitica* had little impact. It was not until 1695 that laws on printing were relaxed, allowing for a blossoming of newspapers and provincial presses.

Composed in 1644, John Milton's Areopagitica is a polemic, written in prose, in which the English poet and academician expresses his viewpoints in opposition of censorship. It is considered to be among the most influential treatises defending the concept of a human's right to free speech and expression. Areopagitica takes its title from the Greek Areopagitikos written in the fifth century BC by the Athenian Isocrates. It was distributed in the form of a pamphlet in defiance of the type of censorship he was protesting. Milton was a Protestant who supported the Presbyterians in Parliament. However, here he argues against Parliament's 1643 "Ordinance for the Regulating of Printing" (or the "Licensing Order of 1643") which required that authors obtain governmental license and approval before their work could be published. Censorship was an issue intimately familiar to Milton, who had been censored himself when attempting to publish several treatises in defense of divorce.

In building the foundation for his arguments, Milton cites historical precedents, pointing out that neither Ancient Greece nor Rome required their writers to be licensed. At times, writings deemed blasphemous or determined to be libelous were destroyed and punishments leveled upon their authors. Milton points out, however, that in those prohibitions only came into effect after the works were published and challenged. Further, he adds, licensing was first introduced by Catholic authorities during the Inquisition and used extensively as the popes in Rome gained more and more power. By the sixteenth century, the Council of Trent and the Spanish Inquisition banned texts not only on the basis of heresy but even if they were offensive in some way to individual members of the clergy.

Milton argues that learning requires reading books of all types, not just a canon considered acceptable by a ruling faction. Knowledge can be gained by learning what is considered "wrong" or "bad" in forbidden books. Truths can be determined by studying the falsehoods they oppose. In stressing that a governing body should not have the

power to determine what reading material can be available for the masses, Milton points to any person's God-given free will, reasoning abilities, and individual conscience as reasons why people are fully equipped to make their own reading decisions. He points to Christian converts such as Saint Paul and how they acted on their own, virtuously, to burn books considered to be "magick."

In arguing that any Parliamentary licensing order will not succeed, Milton stresses that such an order would be far too broad, even encompassing the Bible which had been frequently subject to censorship due to its passages depicting blasphemy and evil acts. Further, Parliament will be unable to protect the ignorant from being influenced by scandalous book since the likely readers of texts would actually be the educated, not the uneducated. The ideas that licensing seeks to suppress will be spread via word of mouth. In addition, the entire concept of licensing is an unfair practice towards authors, who generally create their works with good intentions. Milton sees censorship as an arbitrary, subjective, judgmental action on the part of those with the power to regulate written material. The better course of action, he believes, is to allow publication and determine later if there in fact is libelous and/or blasphemous content. The books could be destroyed at that point.

Milton's Areopagitica did not convince Parliament to remove the component of the Licensing Order of 1643 that required prepublication censorship. For drawing connections between free will and the rights of an individual, Milton was seen as radical for his time. This coupled with his previous clashes with Parliament over his pro-divorce writings prevented his ideas from gaining wide acceptance. Time was kind to Milton's Areopagitica and the rights for which it argues.

The Puritan church soon adopted Milton's ideas into its official charter. Allowances for divorce in cases of abandonment or infidelity became part of the Westminster Confession of Faith drafted between 1643 and 1650. Milton's beliefs had far reaching influence. The Constitution of the United States includes provisions that prevent prior restraint—that is, censorship before publication. Milton's work stressed that censorship before publication would have a devastating effect on the valued rights to free speech and expression. This would greatly block the pursuit of the truth as related to providence.

Apreopagitica, both controversial and influential, remains one of the most significant defenses of individual rights and freedoms, and a reminder that these rights were not always the unchallenged ways of life they have become for many.

**Bertrand Russell,**

**The Role of Individuality**

**Earl Russell**, (born May 18, 1872, Trelleck, Monmouthshire, Eng.—died Feb. 2, 1970, near Penrhyndeudraeth, Merioneth, Wales), British logician and philosopher. He is best known for his work in mathematical logic and for his advocacy on behalf of a variety of social and political causes, especially pacifism and nuclear disarmament. He was born into the British nobility as the grandson of Earl Russell, who was twice prime minister of Britain in the mid-19th century. He studied mathematics and philosophy at Cambridge University, where he came under the influence of the idealist philosopher J.M.E. McTaggart, though he soon rejected idealism in favour of an extreme Platonic realism. In an early paper, "On Denoting" (1905), he solved a notorious puzzle in the

philosophy of language by showing how phrases such as “The present king of France,” which have no referents, function logically as general statements rather than as proper names. Russell later regarded this discovery, which came to be known as the “theory of descriptions,” as one of his most important contributions to philosophy. In *The Principles of Mathematics* (1903) and the epochal *Principia Mathematica* (3 vol., 1910–13), which he wrote with Alfred North Whitehead, he sought to demonstrate that the whole of mathematics derives from logic. For his pacifism in World War I he lost his lectureship at Cambridge and was later imprisoned. (He would abandon pacifism in 1939 in the face of Nazi aggression.) Russell’s best-developed metaphysical doctrine, logical atomism, strongly influenced the school of logical positivism.

His later philosophical works include *The Analysis of Mind* (1921), *The Analysis of Matter* (1927), and *Human Knowledge: Its Scope and Limits* (1948). His *A History of Western Philosophy* (1945), which he wrote for a popular audience, became a best-seller and was for many years the main source of his income. Among his many works on social and political topics are *Roads to Freedom* (1918); *The Practice and Theory of Bolshevism* (1920), a scathing critique of Soviet communism; *On Education* (1926); and *Marriage and Morals* (1929). In part because of the controversial views he espoused in the latter work, he was prevented from accepting a teaching position at the City College of New York in 1940. After World War II he became a leader in the worldwide campaign for nuclear disarmament, serving as first president of the international Pugwash Conferences on nuclear weapons and world security and of the Campaign for Nuclear Disarmament. In 1961, at the age of 89, he was imprisoned for a second time for inciting civil disobedience. He received the Nobel Prize for Literature in 1950.

**The Role of Individuality**

"The great men who stand out in history have been partly benefactors of mankind and partly quite the reverse. Some, like the great religious and moral innovators, have done what lay in their power to make men less cruel towards each other, and less limited in their sympathies; some, like the men of science, have given us a knowledge and understanding of natural processes which, however it may be misused, must be regarded as in itself a splendid thing. Some, like the great poets and composers and painters, have put into the world beauties and splendours which, in moments of dis couragement, do much to make the spectacle of human destiny endurable.

But others, equally able, equally effective in their way, have done quite the opposite. I cannot think of anything that mankind has gained by the existence of Jenghis Khan. I do not know what good came of Robespierre, and, for my part, I see no reason to be grateful to Lenin. But all these men, good and bad alike, had a quality which I should not wish to see disappear from the world — a quality of energy and personal initiative, of independence of mind, and of imaginative vision. A man who possesses these qualities is capable of doing much good, or of doing great harm, and if mankind is not to sink into dullness such exceptional men must find scope, though one could wish that the scope they find should be for the benefit of mankind. There may be less difference than is sometimes thought between the temperament of a great criminal and a great statesman. It may be that Captain Kidd and Alexander the Great, if a magician had interchanged them at birth, would have each fulfilled the career which, in fact, was fulfilled by the other. The same thing may be said of some artists; the memoirs of

Benvenuto Cellini do not give a picture of a man with that respect for law which every right-minded citizen ought to have.

In the modern world, and still more, so far as can be guessed, in the world of the near future, important achievement is and will be almost impossible to an individual if he cannot dominate some vast organisation. If he can make himself head of a State like Lenin, or monopolist of a great industry like Rockefeller, or a controller of credit like the elder Pierpont Morgan, he can produce enormous effects in the world. And so he can if, being a man of science, he persuades some government that his work may be useful in war. But the man who works without the help of an organisation, like a Hebrew prophet, a poet, or a solitary philosopher such as Spinoza, can no longer hope for the kind of importance which such men had in former days.

The change applies to the scientist as well as to other men. The scientists of the past did their work very largely as individuals, but the scientist of our day needs enormously expensive equipment and a laboratory with many assistants. All this he can obtain through the favour of the government, or, in America, of very rich men. He is thus no longer an independent worker, but essentially part and parcel of some large organisation. This change is very fortunate, for the things which a great man could do in solitude were apt to be more beneficial than those which he can only do with the help of the powers that be. A man who wishes to influence human affairs finds it difficult to be successful, except as a slave or a tyrant: as a politician he may make himself the head of a State, or as a scientist he may sell his labour to the government, but in that case he must serve its purposes and not his own.
And this applies not only to men of rare and exceptional greatness, but to a wide range of talent. In the ages in which there were great poets, there were also large numbers of little poets, and when there were great painters there were large numbers of little painters. The great German composers arose in a milieu where music was valued, and where numbers of lesser men found opportunities. In those days poetry, painting, and music were a vital part of the daily life of ordinary men, as only sport is now. The great prophets were men who stood out from a host of minor prophets.

The inferiority of our age in such respects is an inevitable result of the fact that society is centralised and organised to such a degree that individual initiative is reduced to a minimum. Where art has flourished in the past it has flourished as a rule amongst small communities which had rivals among their neighbours, such as the Greek City States, the little Principalities of the Italian Renaissance, and the petty Courts of German eighteenth-century rulers. Each of these rulers had to have his musician, and once in a way he was Johann Sebastian Bach, but even if he was not he was still free to do his best.

There is something about local rivalry that is essential in such matters. It played its part even in the building of the cathedrals, because each bishop wished to have a finer cathedral than the neighbouring bishop. It would be a good thing if cities could develop an artistic pride leading them to mutual rivalry, and if each had its own school of music and painting, not without a vigorous contempt for the school of the next city. But such local patriotisms do not readily flourish in a world of empires and free mobility. A Manchester man does not readily feel towards a man from Sheffield as an Athenian felt towards a Corinthian, or a Florentine towards a Venetian.

But in spite of the difficulties, I think that this problem of giving importance to localities will have to be tackled if human life is not to become increasingly drab and monotonous. The savage, in spite of his membership of a small community, lived a life in which his initiative was not too much hampered by the community. The things that he wanted to do, usually hunting and war, were also the things that his neighbours wanted to do, and if he felt an inclination to become a medicine man he only had to ingratiate himself with some individual already eminent in that profession, and so, in due course, to succeed to his powers of magic. If he was a man of exceptional talent, he might invent some improvement in weapons, or a new skill in hunting. These would not put him into any opposition to the community, but, on the contrary, would be welcomed.
The modern man lives a very different life. If he sings in the street he will be thought to be drunk, and if he dances a policeman will reprove him for impeding the traffic. His working day, unless he is exceptionally fortunate, is occupied in a completely monotonous manner in producing something which is valued, not, like the shield of Achilles, as a beautiful piece of work, but mainly for its utility. When his work is over, he cannot, like Milton's Shepherd, 'tell his tale under the hawthorn in the dale,' because there is often no dale anywhere near where he lives, or, if there is, it is full of tins. And always, in our highly regularised way of life, he is obsessed by thoughts of the morrow.

Of all the precepts in the Gospels, the one that Christians have most neglected is the commandment to take no thought for the morrow. If he is prudent, thought for the morrow will lead him to save; if he is imprudent, it will make him apprehensive of being unable to pay his debts. In either case the moment loses its savour. Everything is organised, nothing is spontaneous. The Nazis organised 'Strength Through Joy', but joy prescribed by the government is likely to be not very joyful. In those who might otherwise have worthy ambitions, the effect of centralisation is to bring them into competition with too large a number of rivals, and into subjection to an unduly uniform standard of taste. If you wish to be a painter you will not be content to pit yourself against the men with similar desires in your own town; you will go to some school of painting in a metropolis where you will probably conclude that you are mediocre, and having come to this conclusion you may be so discouraged that you are tempted to throw away your paint-brushes and take to money-making or to drink, for a certain degree of self-confidence is essential to achievement.

In Renaissance Italy you might have hoped to be the best painter in Siena, and this position would have been quite sufficiently honourable. But you would not now be content to acquire all your training in one small town and pit yourself against your neighbours. We know too much and feel too little. At least we feel too little of those creative emotions from which a good life springs. In regard to what is important we are passive; where we are active it is over trivialities. If life is to be saved from boredom relieved only by disaster, means must be found of restoring individual initiative, not only in things that are trivial, but in the things that really matter. I do not mean that we should destroy those parts of modern organisation upon which the very existence of large populations depends, but I do mean that organisation should be much more flexible, more relieved by local autonomy, and less oppressive to the human spirit through its impersonal vastness, than it has become through its unbearably rapid growth and centralisation, with which our ways of thought and feeling have been able to keep pace."

of

# YOGI VEMANA UNIVERSITY, KADAPA

**DEPARTMENT OF ENGLISH**

**M.A ENGLISH LITERATUREAND LANGUAGE**

**SEMESTER - I**

**ENGYVU 106 – ENGLISH PROFICIENCY COURSE**

**INTERNAL ELECTIVE II (A)**

**With Effect From 2021-22 (Under NEP 2020 )**

## Program Educational Objectives (PEOs)

- The subject keeps in view the students from vernacular medium institutions
- The Subject offers an in depth analysis of vocabulary building and sentence structure
- To get the students acquainted with the lab and make them workout exercises for each unit

**UNIT -I**

**Functional Grammar : A(a). Recognition of Parts of Speech - Articles**
**(b).Verb forms –Usage of Tenses -Conditional Sentences**

**B.(a)Identifying and Interchange of Sentences (Simple, Complex and Compound) (Active and Passive voice)**
**(b)Use of Prepositions and Prepositional Phrases - Correction of Sentences**

**UNIT-II**

**Vocabulary Usage Sentences** **: A(a).Use the given Idioms and Phrases in your own**

**(b).One Word Substitutes – Recognition and Usage**
**B(a). Synonyms – Recognition and Usage Antonyms – Recognition and Usage-Words often confused**
**(b).Expansion of Proverb /Sayings**

**UNIT –III**

**Reading Comprehension** **:A. Passage for Reading Comprehension**
**B.Non-Verbal Communication Description of a given Picture/Symbols**

**UNIT –IV**

**Composition** **: A.Write a Paragraph using the given Words/Phrases**
**Summarizing /Precise Writing- Essay Writing on Topics of Social relevance**
**B. Letter Writing (Informal & Formal)**

## Program Specific Outcomes (PSOs)

- Acquaints knowledge of basic functional and structural grammar vocabulary
- Gets acquainted with drafting letters and writing reports

## Suggested Reading


- The ethics of the family-Cambridge Scholars publishing (2010).
- Student Values as Educational Objectives- (1966)-Purdue University Press- Issue 124.
- Healthy Life Style (e-book) Springer Publishers
- Values At Work (2002), Cornell University Press
- Social Ethics and Social Duties Publisher: Book on Demand Ltd


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of

# INTRODUCTION

## The Importance of Grammar in the Study of Language

Grammar is both an art and a science dealing with the infle ctions or other means of showing relations between words as used in speech or writing and the phonetic system of the language concerned. In other words, grammar describes the way in which words and phrases and even sentences behave in speech and writing. It explains the functions of various parts of speech and the way in which they can be put together to form sentences.

**There are two types of grammar namely:**

(1) The Prescriptive Grammar and (2) The Descriptive Grammar. In the past, only Prescriptive Grammars were used. They prescribed roles for the usage of the various linguistic items in speech and writing. They also give definitions of the various linguistic elements. The Prescriptive Grammars in English were based on Latin Grammar to a large extent.

The Descriptive Grammar is favoured today. It is believed that there can be no prescription of rules for the usage of linguistic elements like words and phrases and that a Grammar can only describe the way in which the linguistic elements behave in a particular language. It is also

believed that mere definitions do not help students to acquire a knowledge of Grammar and of the correct usage of language.

At any rate, the importance of Grammar in the study of language is recognised as an essential discipline. Grammar is necessary because if we use a language without a knowledge of its grammar, we are likely to commit errors and our speech and writing may not communicate our ideas correctly and precisely. If we use a language without a thorough knowledge of its grammar, we will be like drivers of motor vehicles driving vehicles without a know- ledge of the Traffic rules.

Grammar may change when the language changes but certain fundamental principles of grammar remain unchanged because they are related to the basic structure of a language which is peculiar to that language.

A knowledge of Grammar therefore is essential. Without it we cannot use the language concerned correctly.

This text book of Grammar and Composition contains two major sections. Part-I deals with the basic principles of grammar, Parts of Speech, their functions and usage. Part-Ideals with Com- position. Both the parts are comprehensive covering all the essential aspects of Grammar and Composition.

## THE PARTS OF SPEECH

When we speak or write, we use words. We arrange them in the form of sentences. Grammar teaches us how to form sentences with words. It defines and describes the function of words in a sentence.

The words that we use are divided into eight groups called the

parts of speech. The eight parts of speech are the following:-

(1) The Noun (2) The Pronoun

(3) The Adjective (4) The verb

(5) The Adverb (6) The Preposition

(7) The Conjunction & (8) The Interjection.

### 1. THE NOUN

Let us now first see what a noun is. Examine the following sentences. In them, some words are italicised. Study them carefully and find out their function in each sentence, e.g.

of

(1) Bangalore is a city..

(2) Kalidasa is a dramatist.

(3) The army fought well.

(4) Gold is a precious metal.

(5) Shelley wrote many poems.

(6) Goodness is its own reward.

(7) The chair is made of wood.

(8) The Hon is a wild animal.

(9) The parrot is a beautiful bird

(10) The clouds are black.

The words italicized are nouns because they name persons, places, animals or things. So, a noun is used as the name of any- thing.

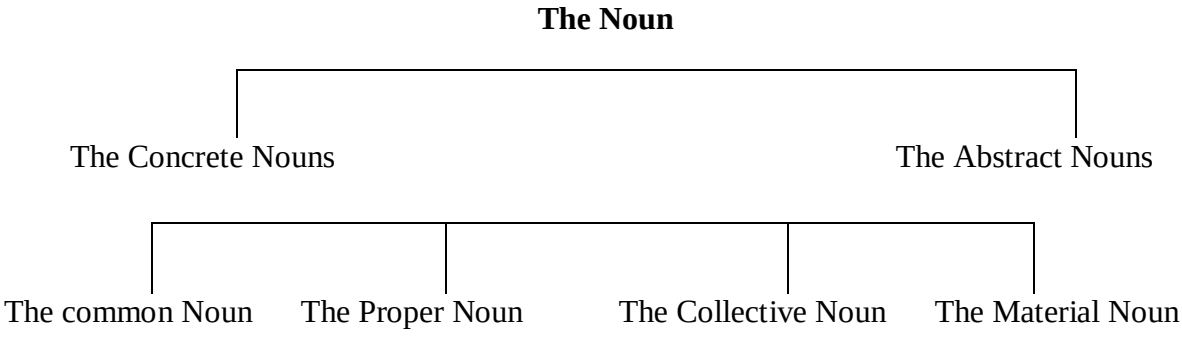
(i) Kalidasa, Shelley, dramatist, army are nouns naming persons.

(ii) Bangalore, city are names of places.

(iii) Lion, animal, parrot, bird are names of animals and birds. (iv) Gold, poems, goodness, reward, chair, wood, clouds are names of things. So, we learn that a noun is a naming word. It names a thing in a general sense. The nouns are classified broadly into two kinds:

Viz.:

# Noun




## (B) Kinds of Noun:

### 1. The Proper Noun

Examine the following lists:

| List (1) | List (2) |
|---|---|
| John | Nagpur |
| Karim | Delhi |
| Rama | Calcutta |
| Shantha | Bombay |
| Rita | Mysore |
| Sita | Agra |
| Hari | London |
| Lalitha | New York. |
| Bhima | Madras |
| Hussain | Bangalore |

These are names of persons and places; but they are names of particular persons or particular places, For example, the name Hari refers to a particular person. The name Bangalore is the name of a particular place. Such nouns are called Proper nouns.

## 2. The Common Noun

Examine the following lists:

| List (1) | List (2) |
|---|---|
| Boy | City |
| Woman | Village |
| Teacher | Town |
| Doctor | Region |
| Girl | Province |
| Officer | Hamlet |
| Poet | District |
| Dramatist | Place |
| Merchant | Locality |
| Traveller | Colony |

Note: These nouns do not name any particular person or place. The name 'boy' refers to all boys. The noun 'city' refers to all cities.

| List (3) | List (4) |
|---|---|
| Tiger | Bench |
| Horse | Chair |
| Monkey | Fan |
| Parrot | House |
| Cow | Table |

These nouns are not the names of any particular animals or things. They are common to a class of animals or things. Hence all such nouns are called Common nouns. A common noun names a class of persons or places. The names of all animals and things are Common nouns.

3. The Abstract Noun

Now examine the following list of nouns :

| List (1) | List (2) |
|---|---|
| Goodness | Ugliness |
| Beauty | Happiness |
| Childhood | Wisdom |
| Kindness | Shortness |
| Excellence | Fairness |

These nouns, as can be seen, name qualities or a condition. They are called abstract nouns.

## 4. The Collective Noun

Examine the following list:

| | |
|---|---|
| Army | Herd |
| Flock | Growed |
| Gang | Mob |

These are names of collections. So they are called collective nouns.

Learn the following collective nouns. In the phrases the collective nouns are italicised:

| | |
|---|---|
| A fleet of ships | A crowd of people |
| A herd of cows | A mob of people |
| A batch of students | A Constellation of stars |
| A troupe of artists | A Congregation of devotees. |
| A gang of workers | An anthology of poems |
| A swarm of bees | A cabinet of ministers |
| A staff of teachers | A posse of policemen |
| A set of instruments | A gang of robbers |
| An army of soldiers | A jury of judges |
| An assembly of members. | An archipelago of islands |

of

A team of players
A lot of articles
A bundle of sticks
A series of numbers
A bench of judges
A couple of people
A cluster of eggs
A suit of clothes
A sulte of rooms
A family of members
A heap of stones A cloud of locusts
A catch of fish
A treasure of jewels
Parliament of members
A federation of states A library of books
A gallery of portraits
A pack of dogs A pack of wolves
A union of workers
An association of workers
A row of houses
A colony of people A sheaf of corn

A gathering of people
A clump of plants
A class of students
A bevy of beautiful damsels
A pair of socks

A pile of coins
A file of papers
A grove of trees
A council of members
A bunch of grapes
A bunch of keys
A flock of sheep
A herd of elephants
A collection of plays
A horde of invading soldiers
A host of visitors
A battallon of soldiers
A throng of visitors
A chorus of singers

Examine the following list:

Wood
Steel
Gold
Iron
Clay
Copper

These are the names of materials out of which we make things, So, they are called material nouns.

Practice :-The Abstract Noun-Forms of Some Adjectives. Abstract noun-forms

| Adjectives | Abstract noun-forms | Adjectives | Abstract noun-forms |
|---|---|---|---|
| Able | Ability | Barren | Barrenness |
| Active | activeness | bleak | bleakness |
| Actual | actuality | bilious | biliousness |
| Aloof | aloofness | broad | beadth |
| Apt | aptness | blue | blueness |
| Amiable | Amiability | Brief | Briefness or Brevity |
| Authentic | Authenticity | | |
| Abstract | Abstractness | Bright | Brightness |
| Aware | Awareness | Brisk | Briskness |
| Apposite | Appositeness | Busy | Business |
| Archaic | Archaism | cruel | Cruelty |

| | | | |
|---|---|---|---|
| Arduous | Arduousness | callous | Callousness |
| Assonant | Assonance | calm | Calmness |
| Attentive | Attentiveness | capable | Capability |
| Auspicious | Auspiciousness | candid | Candidness |
| Bad | Badness | concrete | Concreteness |
| Bitter | Bitterness | causal | Causality |
| Brave | Bravery | caustic | Causticity |
| Black | Blackness | celibate | Celibacy |
| Barbaric | Barbarity | central | Centrality |
| Base | Baseness | casual | Casuality |

| | | | |
|---|---|---|---|
| Simple | Simplicity | Urgent | Urgency |
| Small | Smallness | Violent | Violence |
| Shrewd | Shrewdness | Vivid | Vividity |
| Sure | Surety | Vital | Vitality |
| Thins' | Thinness | Void | Voidness |
| Thick | Thickness | Weak | Weakness |
| True | Truth | Weary | Weariness |
| Tight | Tightness | Warm | Warmth |
| Tough | Toughness | Wise | Wisdom |
| Total | Totality Ugliness | Wide | Width |
| Ugly | Simplicity | White | Whiteness |

## The Abstract Noun – Forms of Some Verbs

| | | | |
|---|---|---|---|
| Aspire | Aspiration | Imagine | Imagination |
| Attain | Attainment | Liberate | Liberation |
| Apply | Application | Maintain | Maintenance |
| Argue | Argument | Manipulate | Manipulation |
| Achieve | achievement | Marry | Marriage |
| Appear | appearance | Narrate | narration |
| Arrive | arrival | Offend | offence |
| Believe | belief | pretend | pretension |
| Compel | compulsion | Press | pressure |
| Conquer | Conquest | practise | practice |
| cancel | cancellation | Quote | quotation |
| Do | dead | reside | residence |
| Die | death | repeat | repetition |
| Defend | defence | reduce | reduction |

of

| | | | |
|---|---|---|---|
| Deceive | deception | realise | realisation |
| Engage | engagement | substitute | substitution |
| Enquire | enquiry | sue | suit |
| Fly | flight | try | trial |
| Fail | failure | transmit | transmission |
| from | formalism | treat | Treatment |
| Give | gift | urge | Urgency |
| Grow | growth | visualise | Visualisation |
| invent | invention | waste | wastage |

The Abstract Noun Forms Of Some Nouns

| | | | |
|---|---|---|---|
| Leader | Leadership | Woman | Womanhood |
| Robber | Robbery | Infant | Infancy |
| Child | Childhood | Lecturer | Lectureship |
| Slave | Slavery | President | President ship |
| Lady | Ladyship | Scholar | Scholarship |
| Dealer | Dealership | Knight | Knighthood |
| Apprentice | Apprenticeship | Priest | Priesthood |

EXERCISE 1

**Insert in the blanks the abstract noun-forms of the adjectives given in the brackets:**

1. The...of the rope is 12 metres, (long)
2. …...goes before a fall. (Pride)
3. The …….of the pillar is 15 metres. (high)
4. ...in great ones should not go unwatched, (mad)
5. King Solomon possessed great... (wise)
6. We should not fear…. … … -(die)
7. Shivaji is known for his... (hero)
8. I hate... (coward)
9. Nobody knows the... (true)
10. ….. is power. (know)
11. India got her. -In 1947. (free)
12. We should remove. -(poor) .
13. There was ...in his voice. (harsh)
14. The king was renowned for his ..(generous)

## (C) The Functions of Nouns

### (i) A Noun may appear as the subject of a sentence.

1. The *teacher* teaches English.
2. *Malaria* is a fever.
3. *Women* love flowers.
4. *Scientists* make discoveries.
5. *Birds* fly in the sky.
6. *Milton* wrote many poems.
7. The *boys* are playing Cricket.
8. *Children* love games
9. The *hunter* killed a lion
10. The *policeman* caught the thief.

.

Note:

The subject is the docs of the action. In a sentence something is said about the subject. The nouns italicised in the sentences above are subjects..

## (ii) A Noun may be the object of a verb.

1. I ate a fruit.
2. She lost her umbrella.
3. The merchant sells pens
4. Hardy wrote novels.
5. She sang a song.
6 The king helped a beggar.
7 They are playing cricket.
8. The tiger ate a lamb.
9. I bought a cow.
10. The farmer grows vegetables.

Note: The object is the sufferer of the action. In the sentences above the nouns italicised are objects.

(iii) A Noun may be the complement of a subject. A subject complement completes the meaning of a subject.

1. Rama is a *cricketer*.
2. She is a *nurs*e.
3. They are *engineers*
4. Bangalore is a *city*.
5. The Ganga is a sacred *river*.
6. The tiger is a wild *anima*l.
7. Tirupathi is a holy *place*.
8. Bombay is a busy *city*.
9. He is an excellent *actor*.
10. She is a *musician*.

Note: In these sentences the italicized nouns are complements of their respective subjects

## (iii) A Noun may be governed by a preposition.

1. The book is on the *table.*
2. The teacher is angry with the *students.*
3. She is working in a *bank.*
4. The sun rises in the ear.
5. The King lives in a *palace*
6. I am waiting for the bank.
7. She parted with her *property*.
8. We parted from our *friends.*
9. The buffalo fell into a *well*
10. She is in the *Kitchen.*

Note: In the sentences, the nouns Table, Students, Bank, East,Palace, Bus, Property, Friends, Well and Kitchen are governed by the Prepositions on, with, In, in, for, with, from, Into and in respectively.

## (iv) A Noun may be put in apposition with the subject.

1. Mr. John, a *doctor,* cured me of my disease.
2. 2 Shivaji, the *hero,* fought ably.
3. Girija, a *student,* gave me this pen
4. Sunil, a *boy*, is standing there.

5. Alexander Fleming, a *doctor,* discovered penicillin.

## (v) The noun may be put in apposition with an object.

1. I like Hari, the *doctor*.
2. We honoar Ashoka, the *emper*or.
3. They caught Harinder, a *soldie*r.
4. I like Chandu, the *serva*nt.
5. I met Mr. Rao, the *accountant*.

## (vi) The Noun has two numbers namely the Singular and Plural

1. The name of one person or one place or one animal or one thing is in the singular number.
2. The names of two or more persons, places or animals or things are in the plural number.
   (A) Normally, in English most nouns take the plural from by the additinof 'S' to the singular form as.

| Singular | Plural |
|---|---|
| House | Houses |
| Bank | Banks |

of

| | |
|---|---|
| Tiger | Tigers |
| Cup | Cups |
| Lock | Locks |
| School | Schools |
| Pencil | Pencils |
| Bag | Bags |
| Paper | Papers |
| Window | Windows |
| Lip | Lips |
| Mouth | Mouths |
| Nose | Noses |
| Bottle | Bottles |
| Year | Years |
| Hand | Hands |
| Ear | Ears |

In the case of nouns ending in “S Sh Ch or X” the plurals are formed by the addition of “es ”to the singular number.

| | |
|---|---|
| Bench | Benches |
| Patch | Patches |
| Batch | Batches |
| Mass | Masses |
| Trench | Trenches |
| Bitch | Bitches |
| Pitch | Pitches |
| Bitch | Bitches |
| Mesh | Meshes |
| Lass | Lasses |
| Ass | Asses |
| Glass | Glasses |
| Arch | Arches |
| Torch | Torches |
| Witch | Witches |
| Fox | Foxes |
| Ditch | Ditches |
| Bunch | Bunches |
| Stitch | Stitches |

of

| | |
|---|---|
| Switch | Switches |

c) Some words ending with ‘ch’ form their plurals by the addition of only ‘ s.’ This is the case when “ch” has ‘k’ sound.

| Singular | |
|---|---|
| Monarch | Monarchs |
| Stomach | Stomachs |
| Epoch | Epochs |

d) some words ending in o form their plurals by the additionof es.

Mosquito mossuitoes
Tomato tomatoes
Torpedo torpedoes

e) Some words ending in o take only s.

| | |
|---|---|
| Curio | Curios |
| Solo | Solos |
| Photo | Photos |
| Ratio | Ratios |
| Sterio | Sterios |

f) Some words ending in ‘Y’ take their plural form by replacing ‘Y’ by ‘ies.’

| | |
|---|---|
| Fly | Flies |
| Cry | Cries |
| Fairy | Fairies |
| Beauty | Beauties |
| Duty | Duties |
| University | Universities |
| Ruby | Rubies |
| Facility | Facilities |
| Felicity | Felicities |

g) In the case of some words ending in y only so is added. This happens normally in the case of words in which the letter y is preceded by a vowel.

| | |
|---|---|
| Valley | Valleys |
| Donkey | Donkeys |
| Storey | Storeys |
| Delay | Delays |
| Lay | Lays |
| Play | Plays |
| Ray | Rays |

h) Some nouns ending in ‘f’ or ‘fe’ take the plural form by replacing ‘f’ or ‘fe’ by ‘ves.’

| Singular | Plural |
|---|---|
| Elf | Elves |
| Self | Selves |
| Half | Halves |
| Sheaf | Sheaves. |

i) Some nouns though ending in ‘f’ take only ‘s’ to form plurals.

| | |
|---|---|
| Grief | Griefs |
| Belief | Beliefs |
| Brief | Briefs |
| Cuff | Cuffs |
| Tariff | Tariffs |

j) Some nouns form their plurals by the change of a vowel in them.

Mouse mice
Tooth teeth
k) A few nouns form their plural by the addition of en

| Singular | Plural |
|---|---|
| Child | Children |
| Brother | Brotheren or Brothers |
| Cow | Cows or Kine |

l) In the case of compound nouns, the plural sign s is added to the main word.

| | |
|---|---|
| Father in Law | Fathers in Law |
| Brother in Law | Brothers in Law |
| Mother in Law | Mothers in Law |
| Governor General | Governors General |

m) Some foreign plurals.

| | |
|---|---|
| Syllabus | Syllabi |
| Genius | Genii or Geniuses |
| Series | Series |
| Alumnus | Alulmni |

n) The following nouns have the same form in the singular and in the plural.

| | |
|---|---|
| Sheep | Sheep |
| Deer | Deer |
| Tout | Trout |
| Swine | Swine |
| Salmon | Salmon. |

o) The following nouns when used after definite numerals do not take the plural form but they take the plural sign s when used with indefinite numerals.

| | | |
|---|---|---|
| Dozen | : | She bought two *doze*n man*goes.* |
| | | *She bought several* dozens of pencils. |
| Pair | : | I bought two *pai*r socks. |
| | | She bought a few *pairs* of socks. |
| Hundred | : | My father gave me two *hundred* rupees. |
| | | Several *hundreds* had gathered to hear the lecture. |
| Thousand | | I want ten thousand rupees. |
| | | Thousands of birds live in the forest. |
| Score | : | He was aged four score years. |
| | | Scores of people attended the function. |

Note: In a sentence, the verb in its following forms must agree with its subject in number.

## The Present Indefinite

(a) The boy writes letters.
(b) The boys write letters

## The Present Continuous

(a) The boy is writing a letter.

b) The boys are wrlitng letters

## The Present Perfect

(a) The boy has written a letter.
(b) The boys have written letters.

## The Present Perfect Continuous

(a) The boy has been writing a letter
(b) The boys have been writing letters

## The Past Indefinite

(a) The boy wrote a letter.
(b) The boys wrote a letter.

Note: In the case of action-verbs, the same verb form is used for the singular as well as the plural number. Only the verb "to be". "to do", and "to have" forms change as

He was a boy.
They were boys He does the work.

They do the work.
He a work. They have books.

## The Past Continous

(a) The boy was writing letters.
(b) The boys were writing letters.

## The Past Perfect

(a) The boy had written a letter.
(b) The boys had written a letter.

Note: In this imae, the sune form is used for both the singular and the plural numbers.

## The Past Perfect Continuous

The boy had been writing letters.
The boys had been writing letters.

Note: In this tense the same verb form is used for both the singular and the plural numbers. In the case of all the four future tense forms the same verb form is used for both the numbers.

## (D) THE CASE

### 1. The Nominative Case

(1) Read the following sentences carefully and examine the function that each italicised noun performs:
1. Rama sat on a bench.
2. Shakespeare wrote many plays.
3. Delhi is the capital of India.
4. The tiger ate a lamb.
5. The cobra bit a traveller.

Note: The italicised words are the subjects of the sentences. subject of a sentence is always in the nominative case.

### (ii) Read the following sentences and study the function of the italicised nouns:

1. Rama, the *hero*, killed Ravana.
2. Harish, the *doctor*, cured me of my headache.
3. Mary, the *nurse*, is very kind.
4. Ramanujam the *mathematician*, was a genius.
5. Ashoka, the *emperor*, was very great

Note: In these sentences the italicised nouns are put in apposition with their respective subjects (Put in apposition means placed in the position of). The noun that is put in apposition with the subject is in the same case as the subject.

### (iii) Examine the following sentences and study the italicised nouns :

1. Macbeth was a hero.
2. Milton was a poet.
3. Sir C. V. Raman was a scientist.
4. They are cricketers. 5. He is a teacher.

Note: The italicised nouns in these sentences and complements of their respective subjects: The complement of the subject is in the same case as the subject.

## II. The Objective Case

### (1) Examine the function of the nouns italicised in the following sentences:

1. Rama killed Ravana,
2. Sita sang a song.
3. The teacher teaches grammar.
4. She lost her umbrella.
5. 1 hate hypocrisy.

Note: The italicised nouns are the objects of their respective verbs.
These are in the objective case.

### (ii) Read the following sentences and examine carefully the Italicised nouns

1. I like Harish, the doctor
2. We admire the singer, Khaiyam

Note: The italicised nouns are put in apposition with their respective objects. So they are also in the objective case.

### (iii) Read the following sentences and examine carefully the italicised nouns :

1. I like Harish, the doctor.
2. We admire the singer, Khalyam.

Note: The italicised nouns are put in apposition with their respective objects So they are also in the objective case.

**(iv) Read the following sentences and study the function of the italicised nouns:**

1. I live in a city.
2. We are waiting for the bus.

Note: In these sentences the nouns italicised are governed by pre- positions. The nouns governed by prepositions are in the objective case.

## III. The Dative Case

(1) She bought Hart, a doll.
In this sentence the noun doll is the direct object of the verb bought while the noun, Hari, is its indirect object. The indirect object of a verb is in the dative case. Always to' or 'for' is understood along with the indirect object.

Note: It is to be noted clearly that the noun in English does not undergo any change in its form when its case changes.

1. The boy wrote the letter.
2. The teacher likes the boy.

Note: The noun "boy" remains the same in the nominative as well as in the objective case.

## IV. The Possessive Case

1. This is Rama's book.

The noun Rama's is in the possessive case because it shows possession. The possessive case is formed by the addition of the apostrophe and 's'.

Note: In the case of inanimate objects, the apostrophe and s should not be used. In this case, possession should be show by using the preposition "of".
The chair's leg is broken. (incorrect)

A leg of the chair is broken. (correct)
Note: But when an inanimate object is personified we use the apostrophe and 's'.
Time's winged chariot is always speeding.

## V. The Nominative of Address

Rama, come here.

In this sentence, the noun Rama is used to address a person Such nouns are in the nominative case of address.

## (E) GENDER

In English there are four gender, namely:

1. The Masculine Gender.
2. The Feminine Gender.
3. The Neuter Gender.
4. The Common Gender.

Note 1

1. The Masculine gender denotes males.
2. The Feminine gender denotes females.
3. The Neuter gender denotes inanimate objects.
4. The Common gender is common to males and females.

**The Masculine Gender**

Boy, man, king, father, uncle, brother.

**The Feminine Gender**

Girl, woman, queen, mother, aunt, sister.

**The Neuter Gender**

Chair, book, pen, pencil, bench.

**The Common Gender**

Teacher, doctor, nurse, leader, writer.

### EXERCISE 2

### Name the genders of the nouns in the following sentences:

1. The teacher was angry with the students.
2. The actress acted very well,

3. The boy plays cricket.
4. The doctor cures diseases,
5. We follow our leader.
6. The horse is a noble animal.
7. The lords and ladies were in a joyous mood,
8. Sita loves flowers.
9. The mayor was absent at the meeting
10.My brother-in-law lives in London,
11. The girl plays on the Veena.
12. My aunt gave me a gift.
13. Joan was a maid,
14. The deg is loyal to his master.
15. Man is mortal.
16. Women love flowers.
17. He is a great hero,
18. She is playing the role of the heroine in the movie
19. He wa, punished because he was a trastor.
20. Pasteur is a great benefactor
21 The hostess Invitedthe guests,
22. Milton was a poet
23. The empress sat on her throne.
24. The gentleman is my friend
25. My uncle is a doctor
26. My brother is an engineer
27. My sister is a teacher
28. He is a great ruler.
29. The fox is very clever.
30. The tiger is a wild animal,
31. A hunter shot the tigress
32. The priest recited the prayer
33. She is a noble lady.
34 The prince is yet young .
35She was a beautiful princess
36 The traveller was deceived by a temptress.
37. The waitress brought coffee
38. The murderer was arrested,
39. The shepherd! takes care of the sheep
40. The gaint killed the man.
41. He was a great prophet
42. He is my son.
43. She is my niece,
44. They are my daughters,
45. I worship my mother.
46. The queen wore a crown.
47. The husband and wife went to a movie
48. The host was very kind
49. He is an excellent actor.to his guests.
50.The monk lived in a hut.

## The Genders of Personal Pronouns

I, we and you are in the common gender."
"He", is in the masculine gender.
"She", is in the feminine gender.
"It", is in the neuter gender in the case of persons and neuter gender in the case of things.

# THE PRONOUN

A.
We use the Pronoun in the place of a Noun. Actually, the word Pronoun means a word used instead of a Noun to designate a person or thing already mentioned or which the reader can make out from the context. When we speak or write English we use a Noun first and then instead of repeating the Noun we use a Pronoun.

Examine the following:
1. Rama was a great hero. Rama killed Ravana.
We do not use the Noun again in this manner. Instead of the Noun again we should use a Pronoun.
Examine the following:
1. Rama was a great bero. *He* killed Ravana.
2. Sita is an intelligent girl. *She* has secured a first class.
3. Milton was a great poet. *He* wrote many poems.
4. Kalidasa was a great dramatist *He* wrote three plays.
5. Bangalore a city. *It* is the capital of the Karnataka State

6. The tiger is a wild animal. *It* pounces upon a deer.
7. *I* am an engineer.
8. *We* are boys.
9. *You* are a student.
10. *They* are doctors.

In the sentences above the words italicised are Pronouns.

## B. Kinds of Pronouns

1. The Personal Pronouns.
2. The Reflexive Pronouns.
3. The Emphatic Pronouns.
4. The Demonstrative Pronouns.
5. The Interrogative Pronouns.
6. The Indefinite Pronouns.
7. The Distributive Pronouns.
8. The Relative Pronouns.

## I. The Personal Pronouns

The Personal Pronoun refers to a person.
The following are Personal Pronouns. I. We, You, He, She, It, They.

## (a) The Personal Pronouns have Numbers

| Singular | Plural |
|---|---|
| I | We |
| You | You |
| He | |
| She } | |
| It | They |

(b) The Personal Pronouns have cases.

### The Nominative Case

I, we, you, he, she, it, they..

### The Objective Case

Me, us, you, him, her, it, them.

### The Possessive Case

(1) My, our, your, his, her, its, their
(2) Mine, ours, yours, his, hers, theirs.

The Pronouns my, our, your, his, her, its and their should be used as attributives or adjectives. That means they should qualifysome Nouns

### Study the following sentences:

(1) This is my book
(2) These are our books.
(3) It is your book.
(4) This is his house.
(5) She lives in her house.
(6) This is its leg.
(7) The students went to their native places.

In these sentences, the Possessive Pronouns function as adjectives.

ii). The Pronouns mine, ours, yours, his, hers and theirs can
be used in two ways.
(a) They can be governed by the Preposition 'of
(b) They can be used as complements of the subject.

List 1
In this list of sentences these pronouns are governed by the pre- position "of".

(1) He is a friend of mine.
(2) This is a house of ours.
(3) This is a book of yours.
(4) He met a friend of his.

(5) She went to Bombay to meet a brother of hers.
(6) This is a book of theirs.

Note: When we use these Possessive Pronouns thus as governed by the preposition of they are selective. "He is a friend of mine" means "I have several friend and he is one of them".

List 2

In this list of sentences, the Possessive Pronouns are used as the Complements of the subject.

(1) This book is mine
(2) These books are ours.
(3) That book is yours.
(4) That pen is his
(5) That on is hers
(6) This house is theirs

Study the following table:

| | | Nominative | | Objective | | Possessive | |
|---|---|---|---|---|---|---|---|
| | | Singular | Plural | Singular | Plural | Singular | Plural |
| I Person | Masculine | I | We | Me | Us | My | Our |
| | Faminine | | | | | Mine | Ours |
| II person | Masculine | You | You | You | You | Your | Your |
| | Feminine | | | | | Yours | Yours |
| III Person | Masculine | He | | Him | | His | Their |
| | Feminine | She | They | Her | Them | His | theirs |
| | | It | | It | | her | Their |
| | | | | | | Hers | Theirs |
| | | | | | | Its | Their or theirs |

## Usage:

## Nominative Case:

I am a student.
We are cricketers.
You are a teacher.
You are teachers.

He is a musician. She is a dancer.
It is a dog. They are workers.

## B. Objective Case

(1) The teacher likes me.
(2) The teacher likes us.
(3) The teacher likes you because you are an intelligent boy.
(4) The teacher likes you because you are intelligent boys.
(5) The teacher likes him.
(6) The teacher likes her because she is intelligent.
(7) It is a sweet fruit and I like it.
(8) The teacher likes them because they are intelligent boys.

## C. Possessive Case

This is my book.
These are our books.
This is her pen.
This is Its tail.
This is a book of mine.
This is a book of yours.
This is a book of his
This is a book of hers.
This is a book of theirs.

This is your book.
These are your books.
This is his pen
This book is mine.
This book is yours.
This book is his.
This book is hers.
This book is theirs.

**Note**: My, Our, Your, His, Her, Its and Theirs are used as Pro nominal adjectives These Pronouns always qualify and they are placed before Nouns

**Note:** Mine, Yours, Ours, His, Hers, and Theirs are used first as governed by the Preposition of and then as subject complements.

**Note:** The Pronoun "its" cannot be used as governed by a Preposition or as a subject complement. It is wrong to say, "This tail is in Study their usage in the sentences and learn to use them properly.

## EXERCISE 3

Fill in the blanks using the correct forms of the Pronouns given in the brackets:

1. ----be a cot beside the hill. (mine, my)
2. ---- am the monarch of all (I, my),
3. Much have ----travelled in the realms of gold. (I, my)
4. I met a friend of -----on the road (my, mine)
5. The teacher has known -----for many years (he, him)
6. -aho serve who only stand and wait (they, them)
7. -am the daughter of earth and water. (I, me)
8. 1 believe-words (yours, your)
9. --fall upon the thorms of life (I, me)
10. No one knows -in the city. (he, him)
11. This is a book of- (her, hers)

12. This house is. (theirs, their)
13. Father likes--because I always secure high marks. (me, I)
14. The teacher likes--because we are intelligent. (ours, us)
15. This book is- (ours, our)
16. -house is nearby. (my, mile)
17. The teacher likes--because they are intelligent (they, them)
18. A book of--has been stolen. (her, bers)
19. Knowledge isown end. (it, its)
20. I was--neighbour once. (your, yours)
21. The world is too much with. (we, us)
22. Never lose-temper. (yours, your)
23. -heart is at your festival. (my, mine)
24. -brart leaps up when I behold a rainbow in the sky. (mine, my)
25 cannot see what flowers are at my feet. (me,I)

## EXERCISE 4

Insert the correct forms of the pronouns given in the brackets
1. We are as happy as---- (they, them)
2. John and--- wont to a movie (I, me)
3. It was----that gave them the tofe tion (me, I)
4. This is a matter between you and----(I, me)

5 He is a tall as --- (me, I)
6 I can trust ---- (he,him)
7. None but- --- could do the job (he, him)
8. He is known to ---- (me,I)
9. To---- alone, there came a thought of grief (I, me)
10 Will no one tell ---- what she sings (I, me)
11. ----name is Ozymandias, King of kings. (My, mine)
12. I left---- friend abruptly (my, mine)
13. My mother and will go to Bombay (I. m)
14. Let--- meet the teacher today (him, he)
15 Rama as well as ---- was present (I, me)
16 Such people as -----should be honoured, (they, them)
17. I have known- -for a long time (him, he)
18. This book is---- (mine, my)
19. 1 am as old as --- (he, him)
20 I am sorry for---- (be, his)
21. I have asked----to dinner. (he, him)
22 The accountant and treasurer did----job wull (their, his)
23. Neither Rama nor Hari did---- work (his, their)
24. You and I have done ---- duty (my,our)
25. Wail for---until I return. (1, me)
26 One morning, I missed----- on the accustomed hill. (he, him)
27. Fair science frowned not on---- humble birth (him, his)
28, 1 must wish Journcy alone. (my, mine)
29 We are commanded to forgive- ---enemies (our,us )
30 A slumber did ----spirit seal, (my, mine)

## II Reflexive Pronouns

Study the following examples carefully and see how the Pronouns myself, herself, itself, themselves are used in the two lists given below:

(A)

1. I have hurt myself
2. 2 We may hurt ourselves,
3. You should respect yourself respect yourselves.
4. You must
5. He hates himself.
6. She killed herself.
7. It hurt itself
8. They hid themselves.

## III. Emphatic Pronouns

(B) 1. I *myself* typed the letter.
2. We *ourselves* did the work
3. You *yourself* should do the work.
4. You *yourselves* must complete the task.
5. He *himself* went to the forest.
6. She *herself* cooked the food..
7. The dog itself went in search of game.
8. They finished the work *themselves.*

Note: 1. In List-A the italicised pronouns are called Reflexive Pronouns because they reflect back upon the subject.

2. In List-B the italicised pronouns are called Emphatic Pronouns because they are used for emphasis.

### EXERCISE 5

Say whether the italicised Pronouns in the following sentences are reflexive or emphatic.

1. The President *himself* gave away the prizes.
2. She killed herself.
3. Sita went to Madras *herself*.
4. Shantha *herself* met the teacher,
5. The poor beggar hurt *himself.*
6. 1 set *myself* the task of helping the poor
7. I *myself* did it.
8. The boys enjoyed *themselves* in the holidays.
9. The king *himself* went out to fight against the enemy.
10. He exerted *himself* too much,
11. The thief *himself* admitted his guilt.

12. She lost *herself* in a forest,
13. I hate *myself*
14. The dramatist *himself* acted in the play.
15. We *ourselves* did the work.
16. Sri Rama *himself* had to face many difficulties in his lite.
17. Some people hate *themselves*.
18. The thief hid *himself* in a cave.
19. God *himself* cannot save a wicked man like you,
20. We *ourselves* completed the task.
21. Othello killed *himself*.
22. The king *himself* gave up all hopes of defeating his enemies.
23. The queen *herself* carried out the administration.
24. Keller shot *himself* to death.
25. Caesar *himself* had to face a defeat when he went to conquer Britain
26. He sat *himself* beneath a tree,
27. I must finish my journey *myself.*
28. He saw *himsel*f in a mirror.
29. The child hurt *itself*
30. I *myself* had to do all the work
31. One must know *oneself.*
32. He deems *himself* a great man.
33. Make *yourselves* comfortable.
34. We ourselves have to solve the problem.
35. I myself saw him do it.

## IV. Demonstrative Pronouns

Study the following sentences and see how the pronouns are used and what function they perform.

*(1) This is my house.*
*(2) These are our books.*
*(3) That is my pen.*
*(4) Those are my pens.*
*(5) Such was the situation.*
*(6) It is a bus.*
Mote: In these sentences, the pronouns this, that, these, those, such, and it are used to show or point objects. Demonstrate means show or point out. Hence, they are called Demonstrative pronouns.
Note:
Demonstrative Pronouns can be used as demonstrative Adjectives as illustrated in the following sentences.
Note:
*(1) This pen is costly.*
*(2) That house in new.*
*(3) These books are interesting.*
*(4) Those animals are wild.*
*(5) Such men should not be trusted.*
Note: In these sentences this, that, these, those, and such qualify nouns. Hence they function like adjectives.

**EXERCISE 6**

Say whether the italicised words are Demonstrative Pronouns or Demonstrative Adjectives.

*1. That book is costly.*
*2. The teacher likes those boys. 3. Those are our new actors.*
*4. Those men are rich. 5. Those stories are quite interesting.*
*6. This is the truth. 7. That is my book.*
*8. Those are costly pearls. 9. I like those men who speak the truth.*
*10. That is the whole story*

## V. Indefinite Pronouns

Study the following sentences and find out the function of each italicized pronouns:
*(1) One must do one's duty.*
*(2) Some are born great.*
*(3) None but the brave deserves the fair.*

*(4) Anyone can see that it is not true.*
*(5) They say that science has brought us comfort as well as anxiety.*
*The italicised pronouns are indefinite in their reference. So, they are called Indefinite Pronouns.*

## *VI. Distributive Pronouns*

**Examine the following sentences and see what function the italicised pronouns perform in the sentences.**

**Each** of the students was given a book. Elther of the roads leads to the market.
Neither of the boys was present.
He gave the boys ten rupees each.

Note: 1. The italicised pronouns are used to indicate the sense of distribution. So they are called distributive pronouns.
2. Either and neither should be used only as singulars followed by singular verbs.
3. Normally each other should be used while speaking of two persons.
4 Even while referring to a large number of people, each other may be used if the sense is mutual.
5 Each, either, neither and such can be used as distributive adjectives.

Each boy got a gift. Neither boy was present.
Either road leads to Delhi. Such men are dangerous.

## *VII. Interrogative Pronouns*

Study the following sentences and see what function the italicised pronouns perform in the sentences.

Who is he?
What do you want?
Which is your pen?

Whom do you want to see ?

Whose pen is this?

The italicised pronouns function as questioning words; there- fore, they are called Interrogative Pronouns.

Note: 1. Who is in the nominative case. Whom is in the objective case.

Whose is in the possessive case.

Who are you?

Whose is this house?

Whom did you meet ?

2. What may be used as the nominative as well as the objective case.

What is he ? (nominative case) What do you want? (Objective case)

3. Which may be used as the nominative as well as the objective case,

Which is it? (Nominative case)

Which do you like ? (Objective case)

4. Who should be used for persons only.

Which and what can be used for both persons and things

but What when used for persons is used with reference to a Profession.

What is your father? Answer: He is a doctor.

5. Which, what and whose become interrogative adjectives when they qualify an immediately following noun.

Which book do you like? What book are you reading 7

Whose pen is it?

6. Whichever, whoever and whatever are called Compound Interrogative Pronouns and they are used to emphasize an idea.

## *EXERCISE 7*

*Fill in suitable interrogative pronouns and complete the sentences:*

1. ___ ___did you meet there ? ?
2. ___ ___is coming to meet you
3. ___ ____do you want ?
4. ___ ___pen is this ? do you like ? wants to meet me must come to-morrow 7
5. ___ ___-you like?
6. ___ ___do you cannot please him
7. ___ ___you do. You cannot please him?
8. ___ ___is sitting there ? wrote Paradise Lost?
9. ___ ___wrote Paradise Lost?
10. ___ ___ do you prefer?
11. ___ ___has taken my book ?

### *VIII. The Relative Pronouns*

A relative pronoun relates to or refers to an earlier noun or pronoun.. Moreover, it functions as a conjunction combining two sentences, as:
The teacher likes Ram Ram is an intelligent boy. Instead of using the noun, Ram again we use a relative pronoun.
The teacher likes Ram who is an intelligent boy. In this sentence Who is the relative pronoun Ram is its antecedent. The antecedent is the noun or the pronoun for which the relative pronoun refers.

***Study the following:***

This is the house. It was built by my father.
This is the house which my father built.
She is the girl. She secured the first rank,
She is the girl who secured the first rank.
She lost the book. I had given it to her.
She lost the book which I had given to ber.
He killed the dog. It was mad.
He killed the dog which was mad.
I know the woman. She helped you.
I know the woman who helped you.
This is the doctor. He cured me of malaria.
This is the doctor who cured me of malaria
We saw the dog. It bit Hari.
We saw the dog which bit Hari.
She bought a house. It was new.
She bought a house which was new.
My brother lives in Bombay. He is an engineer.
My brother, who lives in Bombay, is an engineer.
Bring me the book. It is on the shelf.
Bring me the book which is on the shelf.

***Some principles relating to the usage of the relative pronouns***

1. The relative pronoun must generally be placed immediately after its antecedent. Read the following:
Rama was the son of Dasaratha, He killed Ravana.
Rama was the son of Dasaratha who killed Ravana.
(This sentence means that Dasaratha killed Ravana. This is wrong)
Hence, the right way to form the sentence is as follows:
Rama, who killed Ravana, was the son of Dasaratha. In this sentence, Who refers to Rama.
2. The relative pronoun that' may be used either for persons, things, animals or places, e.g.
(a) The girl that runs fastest will get the prize.
(b) I killed the dog that was mad.
3. Which must be used only for animals or things.
(a) The dog which bit me was not mad.
It is wrong to say. The man which is standing there is my brother

The correct form is as follows.
The man who is standing there is my brother.
4. Who is nominative.
Whore is possessive.
Whom is accusative.
(a) He is the man who killed the tiger. (nominative)
(b) He is the teacher whom every student likes. (accusative)
(c) The man whose character is lost, is totally lost. (possessive)

5. The Relative Pronoun which may refer to a sentence.
They say he drinks, which is false.

6. The relative pronoun that may refer to a singular or a plural noun.
The boy that killed the dog is my brother.
The boys that teased the dog are mischievous.

7. The relative pronoun who and which are definitive and 'that' is selective.
My father who is an Engineer lives abroad. (correct form)
My father that is an Engineer lives abroad. (incorrect form)

8. The relative pronoun 'thar' is used for any gender or case.
9. That' is used with reference to all, some, any, none, nothing and only.
This is the same book that I had lost.
It is only sensible people thar avoid bad habits.
All that glitters is not gold.

10. The relative pronoun 'what' refers only to things.
Its antecedent 'that is understood not written.
Listen to what I say.
What is done cannot be undone. I told him what I knew.

11. The relative pronoun 'as is used with such and some- times with the word 'same'.
Such boys as have not paid the fees, will not be admitted.
It is difficult to defeat such a hero as he.
My problem is the same as yours

12. Sometimes, the relative pronoun is dropped but is understood. The tiger I saw was a wild one. I lost the book you gave me.
13. Sometimes the antecedent of a relative proneun is dropped.
Who loves best prays best. (He who loves best prays best)

14. Whoever, Whichever, Whatever, are compound relative pronouns. They are used without antecedents.
Whatever you do is right. Take whichever you like.

Whoever works hard succeeds in life.

## EXERCISE 8

Find out the relative pronouns in the following sentences and mention the case and antecedent of each.

1. He prayeth best who loveth oest.
2. There was no one who knew the truth.
3. The man who killed the dog was mad.
4. Blessed is he who enlarges God.
5. Rleased it he who is merciful,
6. They also serve who stand and wait.
7. I know what you are saying.
8. Let him who knows the answer give it.
19. We respect those who respect the law,
10. He who is honest is liked by all.
11. The poet who composed this poem was blind.
12. Shakespeare, who wrote Hamlet, lived in the Elizabethan Age
13. Mahatma Gandhi who fought for our freedom was a great leader.
14. Mr. Nehru, who was the Prime Minister of India, wrote some books like The Discovery of India.
15. The girl, who is standing there, is my sister,
16. Blessed is everyone who fears the Lord.
17. This is the house that my father built.
18. God helps those that help themselves.
19. He who is wise is always successful,
20. This is the University that he works at
21. He admires Mr. Brown which surprises me,
22. Only such students as are intelligent secure high marks,
23. The man whom we met on the way was selling kites,
24. The man who is timid fails in his life.
25. Aziz liked Fielding who was a Principal.
26. This is the same book as you suggested,
27. The people who were wounded were taken to a hospital,
28. This is the book which you gave me yesterday.
29. He took no notice of what I said.
30. The student who absents himself from the class will be punished.
31. They that touch pitch will be defield,
32. The gentleman who called yesterday, was a stranger.
33. Tell me what you know about it,
34. The song that she sang was sweet.
35. The things which I have seen, I now can see no more,
36. Our souls have sight of that immortal sea which brought us here.
37. It is the loud laugh that speaks a happy mind.
38. He gave to Misery all that he had.
39. The time that is lost, is lost forever.
40. I viewed the ocean which was green.

**EXERCISE 9**

## Insert suitable relative pronouns :

1 I know_____you mean
2. All_____glitters is not gold.
3. She is the girl_____has secured the highest mark.
4. You speak a language_____I do not understand.
5. There is no art_____can find the construction of the mind,
6 . This is the man_____I trust.
7. Those _____are honest are liked by all.
8. This is the snake_____bit the man.
9. There is divinity_____shapes our ends.
10. _____Suffers most, suffers in the mind.
11. I hate the man_____pretends to be what he is not,
12. _____you do, you do well. .
13. No one can lose,--he never had.
14. This is -I meant,
15. She recognised the boy_____had stolen her purse,
16. The is the book_____I like most.
17. The accident _____happened yesterday is a serious one.
18. Those _____are poor will be given some help.
19. You have betrayed the trust_____I reposed in you.
20. Bring me the book_____is on the table.
21. I know the ma_____killed the dog.
22. The boy_____is honest, is liked by all,
23. She found the book_____she had lost,
24. The girl_____is standing there, is my sister.
25. He is the man_____brother is a doctor.
26. The teacher praised the boy_____answers were correct.
27. She filled the jug_____ was empty
28. Those- have not brought their hall_____tickets may leave the
29. The boy killed the dog_____was mad.
30. Blessed are those_____ are merciful.

**EXERCISE 10**

**Combine the following pairs of sentences by using appropriate Relative Pronouns.**

1. She wrote a poem. The poem was excellent,
2. She lost the book. The book was new.
3. I know the boy. He killed the dog
4. Sae fell into the well. The well was deep.
5. This is the boy. His pen has been lost.
6. He is noble He is liked by all
7. You want to say something. I know it.
8. She saw a cobra It was long
9. I punished the bay. He had broken the glass.
10. She lives in a place. The place is calm,
11, They went to a hotel. It was nearby.

**(b) Examine the way in which the adjective are used in the foliowing sentences:-**

1. The well is deep. 2. She is intelligent.

3. The poem is long
4. The houses are new.
5. The argument is logical.
6. The train is late.
7. The market is crowded.
8. The rich are not always happy.
9. The water is fresh
10. The sky is blue.

**Note: In these sentences the Adjectives are used predicatively since they form a part of the predicate.**

**III. Kinds of Adjectives;**

**(b) Adjectives of quality**

Study the following sentence and see how the adjectives function.

1. John is a lazy boy.
2. Mary is an Intelligent girl.
3. The sky is blue.
4. God is great.
5. Shivaji was a great hero.
6. We have bought a new house.
7. Beware of the anger of a patient man.
8. Mahatma Gandhi was a great leader.
9. Kalidasa was a great poet.
10. She fell into a deep well.

The italicised words are adjectives. They show quality: So, they are called adjectives of quality.

**(b) Adjectives of Quantity**

**Examine the following sentences and see how the adjectives function.**

1. There is a little milk in the cup.
2. I have enough food
3. I have not eaten much food.
4. He knows litle Greek and less Latin.
5. There is some milk in the jug.
6. A little tact would have helped you out of the situation.

**Note**: The italicised words are adjectives. They show quantity; hence, they are called adjectives of quantity.

**(c) Adjectives of Number**

**Examine the following sentences and see how adjectives are**

Used:-

1. I bought ten books.
2. Some people are born great,
3. Sita secured the first rank in the examination.
4. Many guests attended the function.
5. All fruits are not sweet.

6. Only twenty boys attended the test.
7. Few men are as great as Mahatma Gandhi.
8. There were only a Fee coins in my purse.

**Note:** The italicised words in the sentences are adjectives. show numbers; so they are called adjectives of number.

The Adjectives of number are of two kinds; namely,

1. The Definite Numeral Adjectives.
2. The Indefinite Numeral Adjectives.

**Note:** 1. Ten, Hundred, etc are Definite Numeral Adjectives
2. Some, Many. Several, Few. A few, etc. are Indefinite Numerals.

**EXERCISE 11**

Find out the Adjectives in the following sentences and say whether they are Definite Numerals or Indefinite Numerals.

1. Joan fought many battles,
2. Several members, criticised the proposal.
3. Some men achieve greatness, 4 Are there any book in the bag ?
5. She bought twenty apples.
6. He lost many chances in life.
7. Fifty miles is a long distance
8. I bought the pen for ten rupees.
9. The few books I have are old.
10. Few emperors were as great as Ashoka
11 There are three rooms in the house.
12. All men are mortal.
13. Most students answered the question correctly.
14. I will come back within five minutes.
15. There are four hills in this area.

The Definite Numeral Adjectives are of two kinds. Namely

**(1) Cordinals (2) Ordinals**.

**Cordinals** show fundamental numbers. **Ordinals** show an order

of sequence.

One, Two, Three, Four, Fiv, Six, Ten, Hundred etc., are Cordinals.

First, Second, Third, Fourth, Fifth, Tenth, Hundredth etc. are Ordinals

## (d) Distributive Adjectives

Examine the following sentences and see how the adjectives are used in them

1. Each student was given a reward
2. Every city has industries
3. Every student answered the questions correctly
4 Either road leads to Delhi.
5. Neither book is useful.

of

**Note:** In these sentences, the adjectives show distribution, so they are called distributive adjectives.

**(e) Demonstrative Adjectives**

Examine the following sentences and see how the adjectives are used in them

1. This house is large
2. That house is small.
3. These houses are small
4 Those boys are lazy.

**Note:** In these sentences, the italicised words are adjectives. They . So, they are called serve the functions of demonstration Demonstrative Adjectives.

**(f) Interrogative Adjectives**

Examine the following sentences and see how the adjectives are used:

1. Which pen did you lose?
2. Whose box are you carrying ?
3. What work do you like to do?

**Note:** The italicised words are adjectives they are used to frame questions. So, they are called Interrogative adjectives.

**(g) Emphatic Adjectives**

Examine the following sentences and see how the adjectives are used:

1. I know it from my own experience.
2. This is the very book for which I was searching.

Note: The adjectives own and very are used to emphasise some ideas. So, they are called Emphatic Adjectives.

**(h) Exclamatory Adjectives**

**Examine the following adjectives and see how the adjectives are used:**

1. What Nonsense!
2. What a silly thing to do!

Note: In these sentences, the adjective is used for exclamation so it is called the Exclamatory Adjective.

**IV. Study the following lists:**

List No. 1-Adjectival Forms of some Nouns :

| **Noun** | **Adjectival Form** |
|---|---|
| Hand | Handy, Manual |
| Ear | Aural |
| Year | yearly, anually |

of

| | |
|---|---|
| Month | Monthly |
| Office | Official |
| Law | Lawful or Legal |
| Vehicle | Vehicular |
| Hope | Hopeful |
| Head | Capital |
| Wind | vindy |
| Sun | Sunny, Solar |
| Moon | Lunar |
| Dog | Canine |
| Cow | Bovine |
| Beauty | Beautiful |
| Fun | Funny |
| Wealth | Wealthy |
| Health | Healthy |
| Nose | Nasal |
| Face | Facial |
| Surface | Superficial |
| Power | Powerful |
| Money | Monetary |
| Heart | Hearty, Cordial |
| Muscle | Muscular |
| Anger | Angry |
| Thirst | Thirsty |
| Pride | Proud |
| Slave | Slavish |
| Nature | natural |
| Father | Paternal |
| Mother | Maternal |
| Son | Filial |
| Sorrow | Sorrowful |
| Victory | Victorious |
| Joy | Joyous |

.

**List No. 2-Adjectival Forms of some verbs :-**

| | |
|---|---|
| Pay | Payable |
| Rely | Reliable |
| Read | Readable |
| Adapt | Adaptable |
| Break | Breakable |
| Eat | Eatable |
| Know | Knowable |
| Shake | Shakeable |
| Speak | Speakable |
| Understand | Understandable |
| Possess | Possessive |
| Laugh | Laughable |

of

| | |
|---|---|
| Like | Likeable |

**List No. 3-Adjectival Forms of some adjectives :-**

| | |
|---|---|
| Green | Greenish |
| Epic | Epical |
| Blue | Bluish |
| Red | Reddish |
| Round | Roundish |
| Dire | Direful |
| Poetic | Poctical |
| Electric | Electrical |
| Frolic | Frolicsome |
| Economic | Economical |
| Kind | Kindly |
| Comic | Comical |

EXERCISE 12

Insert suitable adjectives 1

1. India is a -------nation.
2. The sky is------
3. The well is------
4. The ------dog bit me,
5. I saw a------- tiger.
6. The rich are not always-------
7. The poor are--------
8. I like-------weather
9. The cobra is a ------- creature
10. This is an-----light
11. It is difficult to get------milk
12. The coffee in-----
13. Only------- boys can pass this test
14. She has-------bair
15. An------beggar is standing there.
16. He was a-----soldier.
17. We bought a------house.
18. Cricket is an-----game.
19. We saw a-----movic.
20. The room is----

## EXERCISE 13

## Give the adjectival forms of the following Nouns.

| | |
|---|---|
| 1. Fame | 4. Region |
| 2. Religion. | 5. Heart |
| 3. Safety | 6. Head |

of

7. Skin
8. Lip
10Nation
11. Parliamentt
12. Province
13. Division
14.Vision
15. Character
22. Rest
23.Wealth
24. Murder
25. Face
26. Surface
32. Sun
33. Moon
34. Cloud 36, Hand
35. Rain
36. Hand
37. Money
38. Child
39. Millitary
47. Nerve
48. Hospitality
49. Reality
50. Convention

9. Ocean

16. Devil
17. Spirit
18. Soul
19. Music
20.Sense
21.Number
27. Law
28. Profession
29. Occupation
30. Ear
31. Permanence

40. Action
41. Art
42. Sanity
43. Distinction
44. Voice
46 Body

## Noun-forms of Some Adjectives

| Adjective | Noun-Form |
|---|---|
| Rich | Riches Richness |
| Long | Length |
| Weak | Weakness |
| High | Highness |
| Handsome | Handsomeness |
| Lean | Leanness |
| Deep | Depth |
| Attractive | Attractiveness |
| Poor | Poverty |
| Ugly | Ugliness |
| Strong | Strength |
| Short | Shortness |
| Lazy | Laziness |
| Wise | Wisdom |
| Broad | Breadth |
| Fine | Fineness |
| Young | Youth |
| Actual | Actuality |

Apretive while charging of Ref Grammar

Real L.can

Reality Leanness

Ideal Dry

Idealism

Dryness

Wet

Wetness

Full

Fullness

Strange

Strangeness Newness

Novel

Novelty Width

New Able

Wide

Ability

Noble

Nobility

Pride

Heroic

Proud

Heroism

## The Comparison of Adjectives

There are three degrees of Comparison namely:-

(1) The Positive Degree,

(2) The Comparative Degree,
(3) The Superlative Degree

We use the Positive Degree when we speak of one person or one object, eg
Arun is a good boy.
We use the Comparative Degree when we compare two persons or things, eg.
Arun is better than Hari.
We use the Superlative Degree when we compare three or more persons or things.
Arun is the best boy in the class.
Note: Good is in the positive degree. Better is in the comparative Degree. *Best* is in the Superlative Degree.

**The Degrees of comparison (Formation of Comparative andSuperlative Degree)**

**List-1**

## By adding "er" and "est"

| Positive | Comparative | Superlative |
|---|---|---|
| Short | Shorter | Shortest |
| Low | Lower | Lowest |
| High | Higher | Highest |
| Strong | Stronger | Strongest |
| Weak | Weaker | Weakest |
| Rich | Richer | Richest |
| Poor | Poorer | Poorest |
| Deep | Deeper | Deepest |
| Broad | Broader | Broadest |
| Dark | Darker | Darkest |
| Long | Longer | Longest |
| Straight | Straighter | Straightest |
| Green | Greener | Greenest |
| Full | Fuller | Fullest |
| Dull | Duller | Dullest |
| Sound | Sounder | Soundest |

**List 2 by adding only “r” and “st”**

| | | |
|---|---|---|
| Nice | Nicer | Nicest |
| Late | Later | Latest |
| Rate | Rater | Rearest |
| Pale | Paler | Palaest |
| Ripe | Riper | Ripest |
| Noble | Nobler | Noblest |
| Wise | Wiser | Wisest |
| Brave | Braver | Bravest |
| Stable | Stabler | Stablest |

**List -3**

When the adjective of the positive degree ends in "y" the comparative and the superlative degrees are formed by replacing "y" by "ier" and "iest"

| | | |
|---|---|---|
| Ready | Readier | Readiest |
| Costly | Costlier | Costliest |
| Lovely | Lovelier | Loveliest |
| Dry | Drier | Driest |
| Tiny | Tinier | Tiniest |
| Lazy | Lazier | Laziest |
| Ugly | Uglier | Ugliest |

**List -4**

Some adjectives ending in "y" take only "er" and "est" to form Plurals.

| | | |
|---|---|---|
| Gay | Gayer | Gayest |
| Stray | Strayer | Strayest |
| Grey | Greyer | Greyest |
| Lay | Layer | Layest |

When the adjective in the positive degree has two or more syllables we form the comparative and the superlative by using more and most. The adjectives themselves do not undergo any change.

| | | |
|---|---|---|
| Humorous | More humorous | Most humorous |
| Glorious | More glorious | Most glorious |
| Magnificent | More magnificent | Most magnificent |
| Comfortable | More comfortable | Most comfortable |
| Crowded | More crowded | Most crowded |
| Generous | More generous | Most generous |
| Magnanimous | More magnanimous | Most magnanimous |

Latin Comparitives
Superior Inferior
Junior senior
Prior Anterior

When they are used as comparatives we should use to not than with them, as

1. He is senior to me.
2. I am junior to him
3. Gray is superior to Goldsmith as a poet
4. Shakespeare is inferior to no other English dramatist.

Note: These Latin adjectives can be used in the positive degree e.g.

1. He is a junior member of our staff.
2. Mr. Harish is a senior student
3. I always buy the superior variety of rice.
4. The inferior variety of grapes is cheap.

**The Noun – forms of these adjectives**

| **Adjective** | **Noun form** |
|---|---|
| Senior | Seniority |
| Junior | Juniority |
| Superior | Superiority |

| | |
|---|---|
| Inferior | Inferiority |
| Prior | Priority |

## V. Study the following sentences and see how the nouns and their their adjectival forms are used

(1) My father is a doctor. He has got some paternal property.
(2) I work with my hands. He is a manual worker. This book is handy.
(3) The head is an important organ. He was given capital punishment.
(4) Man is mortal. He has a manly voice.
(5) He is working in an office He is doing some official work.
(6) There are too many vehicles, on the road. Now-a-days vehicular traffic has increased.
(7) Hope gives fresh energy. She is hopeful of passing.
(8) The wind is blowing It was a windy night.
(9) The sun rises in the east. We can use solar energy for heating
(10) Health is wealth.
He is a healthy man
(11) The moon shines in the night.
I saw a lunar eclipse.
(12) The cow is a noble animal.
He leads a bovine life.
(13) His nose is bleeding.
She has a nasal voice.
(14) His face was pale.
She has very attractive facial features.
(15) The surface of the stone is smooth.
(16) He has only a superficial knowledge of English.
(17) He loves power He is a powerful man.
(18) Anger is the worst enemy. He is angry.
(19) Pride goes before a fall. He is a proud man.
(20) The soul is immortal.
He is interested in spirtrual studies.

## List-7

## Irregular Comparisons.

| | | |
|---|---|---|
| Good | Better | Best |
| Well | Better | Best |
| Bad | Worse | Worst |
| Ill | Worse | Worst |
| Evil | Worse | Worst |
| Little | Less, Lesser | Least |

| | | | |
|---|---|---|---|
| Much | | More | Most |
| Many | | More | Most |
| Late | | Later,Latter | Latest,Last |
| Old | | Older | Oldest |
| Far | | Farther | Farthest |
| Nigh | | Nigher | Nighest-Next |
| Fore | | Former | Foremost-First |
| (Fore) | | Further | Furthest |
| In | | Inner | Innermost Inmost |
| Up | | Upper | Uppermost |
| Out | | Outer | Outmost |
| Upmost | | Utmost | Uttermost |
| (Old) | | Elder | Eldest |

## The usage of certain adjectives

Good: Sita is a good girl.
Better: Lata is better than Sita. Best: Lata is the best girl.
Well: She is well today
Better: She is better now
Bad: He is a bad boy Worse Hari is worse than Rama. Worst: He is the worst boy in the class
Ill: Shantha is ill Evil: He has an evil mind.
Much: She ate much food.
More: I cannot eat more food than she.
Most: Most food was wasted.
Many: I bought many books. More: This library has more books than the other Library.
Most: Most books are useful to children.
Late: She is late to the class. Later: The Delhi train is later than the Bombay train.
Latter: Mysore and Bangalore are cities in Karnataka; and the Last: She is the last girl in class.
Latter: one is the capital of the State. Latest: This is the latest news we have received.
Old: She is an old woman. Older: Rama is older than Hari
Oldest: He is the oldest man in the village. Elder: My elder brother is in Bombay.

Note: The adjective elder is no doubt comparative in meaning but it should be used only as an adjective in the positive degree. The expressions: (1) elder than and (2) elder to are incorrect and shouldnot be used.
Eldest: He is my eldest son.
Note: Eldest is no doubt superlative in sense but it should be used as an adjective of the positive degree qualifying a noun. The expression eldest does not indicate age; it indicates rank, but by implication it also indicates age.
Far: Bombay is far from Bangalore
Farther: Delhi is farther than Bombay from Bangalore.
Farthest: Messengers went to the farthest places in search of Sita
Nigh: The house is nigh
Nigher Your house is nigher than his
Nighest: she lives in the nighest house, seek her help any time.
Fore: The soldiers stood on the fore ground.
Former: Bangalore and Mysore are cities in Karnataka; and the former city is the capital of the State.
Foremost: Gandhiji was the foremost freedom Sighter.
First: She got the firar rank in the examination.
Further: This time-table will hold good until further notice.

Furthest: We should try to the furthest extent to achieve our aim.
Laner: She lives in an inner chamber.
Inmost: The queen lives in the Inmost chamber of the palace.
Innermost: We do not generally reveal our Innermour thoughts
Upper The upper level of the atmosphere is not dense.
Upmost: The most layer of the rarth is called lithosphere.
Uttermost: I tried to the uttermost extent to make friends with him, but he is adamant
Outer: She lives in an outer chamber.
Utter This unter gooseose
Utmost: Try to the most extent to achieve your aim
Uttermost: Ravana tried to the uttermost extent to defeat but failed.

## EXERCISE 14

### A Insert either later or later

1 Mahatma Gandhi and Mr. Nehru were great men, and the --------- first Prime Minister of India.
2 They decided to take a decision at a----- date.
3 The------part of the 20th Century has been a prosperous India
4. The-------- section of the book is dull
5 . There has been no -------news.
6. We shall meet at a date. The Committer favoured the--proposal

### B Fill in the blanks with older or elder.

1. My-------- -brother is in Bombay
2. My house is ------- than your house
3. The ----------boys made fan of the younger boys

4. She is my---------- sister
5 Shakespeare's wife was --------than he
6 My------son is working in a factory.

## C Insert farther or further.

1 Bombay is -------than Belgium from Bangalore.
2 There has been no-------- information
3 This house is to let. For ------- details meet the land-lord.
4. Until-------- Orders, he shall continue in the same post.
5 I cannot walk-than twenty kilometers,

## D. Insert either latest or last.

1. She is the ------girl in the class
2. The ------ news from the war-front is heartening.
3. This is my --------warning to you.
4. We are waiting for the-------- news.
5. Monday is the -------day for paying the fee.
6. The ----- time I saw you, you were weak.
7. The ------- emperor was also the best
8. She always loves the ------- fashions in dress
9. These are the -------- arrivals in our show-room.

## E. Insert either nearest or next.

1. You will be paid first class T. A. from the ------ railway station.
2. I will get off at the------ stop.
3. He lives- ------to my house.
4 Mangalore is the ------port to our area.
5. This is the ------ post office.

## Changing the Degrees of Comparison:

1. She is the tallest girl in the class (Superlative degree)
   No other girl in the class is as tall as she (Positive degree)
   She is taller than any other girl in the class. (Comparative degree)

2. The Taj Mahal is the most magnificent building in the world. (Superlative degree)
   No other building in the world is as magnificent as the Malal Taj (Positive degree)
   Taj Mahal is more magnificent than any other building in the world (Comparative degree)

3. The Ganga is the longest river in India. (Superlative degree)
   No other river in India is as long as the Ganga (Positive degree)
   The Ganga is longer than any other river in India. (Comparative degree)

4. Mount Everest is the highest peak in the world. (Superlative degree)
   No other peak in the world is as high as Mount Everest. (Positive degree)
   Mount Everest is higher than any other peak in the world. (Comparative degree)

5. Only some people are as great as Gandhi (Positive degree)

Gandhi is one of the few greatest people (Superlative degree)
Gandhi is greater than most people. (Comparative degree)

6. America is richer than India (Comparative degree)
   India is not as rich as America (Positive degree)
   America is one of the richest country in the world. (Superlative degree)
   Adjective

EXERCISE 15

## Change the degrees of comparison.

1. Bombay is the busiest city in India,
2. The Pacific Ocean is the calmest ocean in the world.
3. Africa hotter than India.
4. Wood is lighter than India.
5. Milk is the best food for children
6. The lion is more ferocious than the tiger.
7. The rose is the loveliest flower.
8. She is the prettiest girl in the class.
9 The sun is the brightest object visible to us.
10. Mr. Kini is the richest man in the town.
11. Madras is one of the largest cities in India.
12. Very few writers are so great as Milton.
13. The pen is mightier than the sword.
14. The Hindu' bas the largest circulation in India.
15. Gold is costlier than silver,
16. No other emperor in the world was so great as Ashoka.
17. Mr. Jawaharlal Nehru is one of the best Indian writers in
18. Sita is as tall as Lata
19. Solomon was the wisest king of Israel.
20. India is one of the largest nations in the world.

## The correct usage of some adjectives which are often misused

### 1. Few, a few, the few

Note: The adjective few" is negative in meaning. Few men in the world are as great as Mahatma Gandhi.
Note: The adjective 'a few' denotes a positive meaning.
It means a small number.
There are a few great men in the world at all times.

Note: The adjective few modified by the definite article **the** denotes a small number but a definite number or concept.
He gave *the few* books he had to poor students. (Here the meaning is that the person had only a few books and that he gave all of them away)

**2. Little; a little; the little :**

Note: Little means hardly any. There is little milk in the cup.

Note: A little means some, but not much. There is a little milk in the cup.

Note: The little means not much, but all that there is. The little milk we had was spilt.

**3. Some, any**

Note: Some is normally used in affirmative sentences to denote a quantity or a degree,
I bought some mangoes
I ate some food

Note: Some can also be used in questions as illustrated by following examples
Can you lend me some milk ?

## The usage of any

Is there any milk in the cup?
Have you brought any books?
I do not have any book on the subject

## Each and every :

Note: Each and every have almost the same meaning but there little difference between the two. Each is used when speak of two or more persons or things Every is used only when we speak of more than two persons or things. Each signifies definiteness of reference. Every is indefinite in its reference.
Every student attended the class.
Each boy got a present.

## EXERCISE 16

## 1. Fill in the blanks with little, a little or the little.

a) ---------knowledge is a dangerous
b) I spent away------- money I had
c) -------- knowledge of Sanskrit I possess is enough understand these Sanskrit poems
(d) He knew-----. Greek and less Latin.
(e) I want only-- -----coffee.
(f) We can have -----fear, when we have a strong man like you with us.

## 2. Insert few, a few, the few. )

a) Only-------places in Bangalore are really calm. a
(b) I have books on that subjec.t. Take them if you want.
c) ------emperors are as great as Ashoka.
d) -----books I had, I sold away.
(e) ------are the evils of adversity.
(f) I met-----Indians in New York when I went to America
g) ----------cities in India are as busy as Bombay,

(h) I have only------novels
(i) --------books I have read are all written by Englishmen
j) ---------Indian dramatists are so great as Kalidasa

## The Characteristics of the adjective:

1. We cannot identify an adjective by looking at it in isolation. It does not indicate its function. Of course some suffixes like- "o"-"able" show that the words are adjectives.

3. Many adjectives change their form when we change them into other degrees of comparison. Short, shorter, shortest.
Articles

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3. From many adjectives adverbs are formed Lazy, Lazily, But all do not come under this rule

4. Some adjectives are derived from other adjectives.

Kiadly, lowly

5. Most adjectives can be used artributively and predicatively. But there are some adjectives which can be used either only attribatively or only predicatively 6. Most adjectives can be modified by

Very happy.

IV. THE ARTICLES

There are two articles in English.
1. The definite article 'the' and
2. 2 The indefinite article "a" or "an"

Articles are not normally numeral adjectives. They do not indicate number. They of course function as adjectives since they qualify nouns

1. The rules for the usage of indefinite article.
1. We should use an indefinite article with any noun which is countable and which is in the singular number.

I bought a book. Note: Since the noun hook is indefinite we must use the indefinite article. Here the article 'a' does not show that one book was bought, but it shows that some book was bought.
2 If the countable noun is definite, the must be used with it

I liked the book which you gave me
She liked the pens which I gave her.

3. The Indefinite article should not be used with non-countable nouns.

I drank a milk (Incorrect)
I drank milk. (Correct)

4 The indefinite article should be used with abstract nouns.

It is wrong to say — He has a bravery.
It is correct to say — He has bravery.

5. The indefinite article should not be used with proper nouns.

It is wrong to say. — I live in a Bangalore.
It is correct to say — I live in Bangalore

7. The indefinite article an should be used with words beginning- with a vowel sound. A, E, I, O. U are vowels.

An ant, an egg. an ink-pot, an ox, an umbrella, an ugly animal, an able soldier.

8. The indefinite article 'a' should be used with words beginning with vowels which have a consonant sound.

A European, a useful metal, a university.

Here the vowels have the consonant sound of ‘y’

II. The Rule for the usage of the definite article, "the".

1. The definite article should be used when the thing referred to is definite i.e know to the speaker and the listener.

lost the book you gave me.

2. The definite article should be used with the adjectives in the superlative degree.

She is the tallest girl in the class

3. The definits article should be used with names of unique objects.

The moon shines in the night.

4. When we use the with the names of some objects, the words refer to a clam

The rose is a lovely flower (It means all roses)

5. The should be used with the titles of great books.
The Ramayana is a great poem.

The Bible is the holy book of the Christians.

6.The definite article should be used with the names of rivers, mountains, lakes, seas, gulfs, bays and oceans.

The Himalayas — The Gangas
The Mana Sarovar — The Indian Ocean
The Gulf of Mexico — The Bay of Bengal
The Arabian Sea.

7. We use the definite article with a proper noun when it is used as a common noun.

of

Kalidasa is the Shakespeare of India.

8. We use the definite article with a proper noun when it is qualified by an adjective thus:

The great Shakespeare himself committed a grammar mistake

9. We use the definite article with ordinals.

She got the first rank.

10 "The" is used with an adjective when the noun is understood.
The poor (the poor people)
The rich (the rich people)
11. We do not use the with a common noun used in its widest sense.
Man should love nature.
12. We should not use any article with such proper nouns as:
India is a great nation.
13. We should not use 'the' before any proper noun Bangalore is a large city.
14. We should not use the definite articles with the names of languages English is an international language.
15. We should not use the definite articles with abstract nouns when they are used in a general sense,
Honesty is a great virtue.
Pride goes before a fall.
We should not speak falsehood.

## EXERCISE 17

**Use a, an, or the where necessary.**

1. Milton was------great poet
2. ------Mahabharatha is a great epic.
3 -----honest man is honoured everywhere.
4 ------Cauvery is a river in Karnataka
5. -----Nile is longest river in the world.
6. ------cow is------gentle animal.
7. -----Sun rises In----- -East
8. -----lion is------king of beasts..
9. -----cow is standing under the tree.
10-----book which I bought is dull
11. Hanuman jumped over-Indian Ocean
12. My brother will deliver a talk on-Radio
13. -----rose is-----beautiful flower.
14.Gulliver's Travels is---------- interesting book.
15. I bought-------apple.
16. -----spring is------ most pleasant season
17.--- . Dasharatha was- ----king of Ayodhya when Sri Rama was born.
18. He is ablest soldier in the army.
19.------doctor who cured me of malaria is------expert

20. Those who possess------required qualification may apply for--post.
21. Slow and steady wins------race.
22.Rome was not built in------- day.
23. -------pen is mightier than the sword.
24 -------- Assuan dam is situated in Egypt.
25. He always speaks------truth.
26. Iron is------useful metal.
27. I met him------year ago.
28. I lost------ear when I fell down,
29. He has-----annual income of sixty thousand rupees.
30. She possesses-----excellent voice.
31. Mr. Jawaharlal Nehru is------great writer in English.
32. This law is ----- dead letter today.
33. Hearing their father's foot steps-----boys ran away.
34. He gets fifty rupees------day.
35. Shakuntalam' is------great drama written by Kalidasa. 54
36. She has------fair complexion
37. 1 am----- monarch of all I survey
38. She was -------phantom of delight feast.
39. Einstein was------ genius
40. Enough is as good as------feast.
41. This is------house that Jack built
42. Strike------Iron while it is hot.
43. Child is father of------man.
44. There is divinity that shapes our ends, rough new them how we will.
45. The magistrate was ------kind man.
46, -apple cleft in two is not more twin than these two creatures.
47.-------- Arthashastra deals with ------vast variety of subjects.
48, -----Maurya Empire maintained diplomatic relations with world.
49. I saw -----dog which bit the boy.
50 ------Arabian Nights' is a very popular book

## EXERCISE 18

## Insert suitable Articles

1. -----man is a man for all that
2. Eavy is evil passion.
3. He is------Denial in wisdom:
4. ------Palk Strait separates India from Sri Lanka.
5. Babur founded------Moghul Empire.
6. Fabien was--Chinese Pilgrim.
7. Sri Lanka is -beautiful island,
8. Quinine acts as-preventive of Malaria.
9. God made- ----country and man made--town.
10. He is---- honest man.
11. -----idle brain is- -----devil's workshop.
12. Spare- ----rod and spoil-----child.
13, Coal is----- important mineral.
14. Give him-----inch and he will take------ell.

15. Homer was -----great poet.
16. He is- ----old pupil of mine.
17. Queen Victoria was ------able ruler.
18. ------Suez Canal shortened the sea-route from England to India.
19. It was Newton who discovered------laws of motion
20, Bonaparte was born------- Corsican.

21. Solomon was-------wisest of all men.
22. -------little tact would have saved the situation.
23. Honesty is------best policy.
24. This is- ------last chapter of the book.
25. Delhi is -------capital of India,
Verb

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## V. THE VERB

The verb shows action or it asserts something about a person or a thing.

Ashoka was a great emperor
The teacher teaches grammar.
The sun rises in the cast.
She sings songs
The boys are playing games.
The policeman caught a thief.
The tiger ate a lamb
1 bought a pen yesterday.
Dogs bite children.
She fell into a well.

Note: In the sentences given above the words italicized are verbs. There are two kinds of verbs, namely:

**(1) The Transitive verb**

**(2) The Intransitive verb**
1 The Transitive verb takes a direct object. It cannot stand without an object Some examples of the transmissive verb are given below

Milton wrote a drama.
The merchant sold a radio.
The snake bit the traveller
Clouds bring rain.
She sang a song
Rama killed Ravana.

Note: All the verbs in the sentences given above are transitive

**Note: The Intransitive verbs do not take objects.**

The wind blows
She slept well last night.
The fire burns.
The clephant walks slowly.
She sings sweetly
The sun shines in the sky.

Note: In the sentences given above the verbs are intransitive. They do not have objects

**EXERCISE 19**

Say whether the verbs in the following sentences are transitive or intransitive.

1. I know English
2 Seeta cried in grief.
3 Kalidasa wrote three plays.
4. Cows cat gram.
5 Children love toys.
6 She wrote a poem.
7 God sees the truth but waits.
8. Tasare founded the Shantiniketan.
9. Mr. Jawaharlal Nehru wrote excellent English.
10 Gandhiji died for a noble cause.
11. Ashoka fought a war against the Kalogs.
12. Anna loved Vromky.
13. Mrs Bennet loved her daughters greatly.
14 Lear banished Cordelia.
15. Still waters run deep
16. I read a novel last night
17. Barking dogs do not bite.
18. Down went the Royal George.
19. A barking sound the shephard hears
20. The naked every day be clad,

(It may function as the subject of a verb as in the second sen tence.)
It may also take an object as in the following sentence,
She likes singing songs.
A gerund can be replaced by an infinitive.
Teach me singing. (Gerund)
Teach me to sing. (Infinitive)

**The uses of the gerund.**

1. It may be used as the subject of a verb.
Walking is a good exercise.
2. It may be used as the object of a verb.
I like dancing

3. It can be used as the object of a preposition.
She is tired of reading."
4. It can be used as the complement of a verb.
What I like most is reading.
5. It may be used absolutely.
Speak truth being his principle he never utters a lie.

**(XI) Auxiliaries (Helping Verbs)**

Be, have, shall, will, should, would, can, could, may, might, must, ought to, have, do, need, dare, used, to-these are helping verbs.

**Be:**

1. It is used in the continuous tense,
She is writing a letter.
2. It is used in passive voice. The glass was broken.
3. It is used to indicate a plan. They are to be married next week.
4 It is used to denote a command.
You are to write only your register numbers.

**Have:**

1. It is used in the formation of the perfect tense. I have done the work.
I have been doing
2. It is used to indicate an obligation. I have to complete the work within a week.

**Do:**

1. It is used to form the negative and interrogative of the present indefinite and the past indefinite tenses.
   He does not know the truth. Did he not go there?
2. It is used to affirm an action. I do like it.
3. It is used to make a request.
   Do come. I like your company.

Can may indicate ability.
I can swim in a river. She can do the work.
2. Can may indicate permission?
You can go home now,

**Could**

As past tense form, it indicates capacity.
She could carry the box.
2. Could is used in a polite request could you meet me tomorrow 7

**May:**

2. It may express a wish.)
May he live long!
1. May showspossibility. He may come tomorrow.

**Might:**

1. Might is the past tense of may in indirect speech
   She said that she might go to Madras.
2. Might shows possibility.
   He might be at home.
3. Might shows politeness.
   Might I use your pen?

**Shall and will:**

1. Shall in the first person shows simple future.
   I shall go to Madras.
2. shall in the second and third persons shows an/obligation.
   He shall do it.
3. Will in the first person shows determination
   I will do the work.
4. Will in the second and third persoas shows simple future.
   He will come tomorrow.

**Should and Would:**

1. Should and would are the past tense form of shall and will.
   I hoped that I should get a rank.
   He said that he would teach me the poem.
2. Should expresses a duty or an obligation.
   We should obey the rules.
3. Should is used to indicate a supposition.
   If it should rain, we shall not go to a movie.

**Must:**

1. It expresses an obligation.
   We must do our duty.
2. It expresses a possibility.
   He must be at home now.

**Ought to:**

1. It expresses an obligation.
   I ought to go to office.
2. It also expresses a probability.
   This drams ought to be a success on the stage.

**Used to:**

1. It refers to a discontinued habit.
   I used to go to movie frequently when I was a student.

**Need:**

1. It expresses a necessity.
   One needs to be careful in these days.

**Dare:**

1. It is generally used in negative and interrogative sentences.
   How dare you oppose me ? How dare you do it?
   They do not dare to insult me.

**(XII) The Verb-Mood**

The verb has three moods :- I. The indicative mood. II. The imperative mood III. The subjunctive mood.

**I. The Indicative Mood**

1. The indicative mood is used to make a statement.
   She writes neatly.

2 It is used to ask a question.
   Have you done the work.

3.It is used to express a supposition.
If he comes, we shall go to a movie.

**II The Imperative Mood:**

1. It is used in a command or an order.
   Stand up.
2. It is used in advice.
   Be clam. Take care of your health.
3. It is used in a prayer.
   Have mercy upon me.

**The Subjunctive Mood:**

1. It is used to express a wish.
   God bless you
2. It is used to express a desire.
   I wish that Mr. Kini be maade captain.

| **Verb** | **Noun-Form** |
|---|---|
| Depict | depiction |
| Reject | rejection |
| Project | projection |
| Do | deed |
| Give | gift |
| Construct | construction |
| Destroy | destruction |
| Occupy | occupation |
| See | sight |
| Provide | provision |
| Decide | decision |
| Precede | precedence |
| Install | instalation |
| Assure | assurance |
| Fascinate | fascination |
| Inject | injection |
| Compress | compression |
| Inoculate | onoculation |
| Co-operate | cooparation |

| | |
|---|---|
| Oscillate | oscillation |
| Create | creation |
| Deceive | deception |
| Receive | receptiion |
| Commit | commission |
| Refuse | refusal |
| Agree | agreement |
| Hate | hatred |
| Refresh | refershment |
| Press | preasure |
| Think | thought |
| Try | trail |
| Portray | potrait |
| Satisfy | satisfaction |
| Rectity | rectification |
| Seize | seizure |
| Cease | cessation |
| Run | race |
| Prevent | prevention |

**VI THE ADVERB**

**(1) The adverb normally modifies a verb**

**I. It modifies a verb**

She runs fast. He walks slowly

He speaks clearly He works hard

**II. It may modify an adjective.**

He is quite happy the coffee id very good

She is very clever.

**III. It may modify another adverb.**

He reads very slowly.

**(2) Kinds of Adverbs**

**1. The Adverbs of time: eg**.

He came yesterday He returned soon

I have done the work already. He came late

This happened two years ago.

**2. The Adverbs of frequency: e. g.**

I phoned to him twice. He often goes to movies

He always speaks the truth. He visits us freely.

I seldom go to movies.

**3. The Adverbs of place: e. g**

Come here He ran away.

She is in. He has gone out.

**4. The Adverbs of manner: eg.**

He speaks clearly He walks slowly.

The soldiers fought bravely.

**5. The Adverbs of degree or quantity: eg.**

This is quite wrong He is too careless

I am very happy.
We must be fully prepared for the emergency.

**6. The Adverbs of affirmation and negation: e.g.**

It will surely rain. I do not know the answer.
Surely

**7. The Adverbs of reason: e.g.**

I therefore, hate him. He is hence dismissed.

**8. The interrogative adverbs:**

Where is your book? When will you do it?
Why are you lazy?
When will you do it?

**(3) The Comparison of Adverbs**

Some adverbs have three degrees of comparison.

1. In the case of adverbs of a single syllable, the comparative and the superlative are formed by adding "er" and "est", eg.

| | | |
|---|---|---|
| Sweet | Sweeter | Sweetest |
| Higher | Highest | High |
| Far | Farther | Farthest |
| Deep | Deeper | Deepest |

Hari runs fast. (Positive)
John runs faster. (Comparative)
Shashi runs fastest of all (Superlative)

2. In the case of adverbs ending with "ly", more and most are used to make the comparative and superlative degree, e g

| | | |
|---|---|---|
| Tightly | More tightly | Most tightly |
| Carefully | More carefully | Most carefully |
| Handsomely | More handsomely | Most handsomely |

**Note:** But note the usage of early, earlier, earliest, this adverb ends with ly, yet it takes er and eat to form the other degrees of comparison.

**3. Irregular Comparisons**

| | | |
|---|---|---|
| Ill | Worse | Worst |
| Well | Better | Best |
| Much | More | Most |
| Little | Less | Less |
| Near | Nearer | Nearest |
| Far | Farther | Farthest |
| Fore | Further | Furthest |
| Late | Later | Latest |

## VII. THE PREPOSITION

The preposition indicates position or relationship.

The book is on the table. The pen is in the box.
I went to the market I am waiting for the bus.

He is standing on the road. The bird is sitting on the tree.
She lives In Madras I cut the fruit with a knife,
She jumped into the well. I do not care for you.

**Note: 1.** There are no rules for the usage of prepositions. The usage by the educated native speakers and writers of English is the only standard.

**2** A preposition may govern a noun and, in such a case the noun is said to be the object of the preposition and the object is said to be governed by the preposition

**3**. A preposition may have two or more objects.

**4**. Some are called appropriate preposition because only they can be used with certain verbs or words.

**Kinds of Prepositions**

1. **Simple prepositions**: E. g on, of, off, through, with, till, s to, up, in, from, by, for, at, etc.

**2. Compound prepositions:** They are generally formed by the addition of a prefix as in the following, to a noun, an adjective or an adverb e. g. beside, below, behind, before, inside, etc. beynel

**3. Phrase prepositions:** They occur in the form of phrases

**e.g.** In favour of In accordance with

**4 Participal prepositions:** ..

Regarding Concerning
Pending During etc.

**Usage of prepositions: e. g.**

**1. Simple prepositions:**

I was waiting at the bus stop. She is waiting for the train.
She is in the house. He walked through the forest.
I waited till 4 p.m This was written by me..
We are travelling from Bangalore to Madras,

2. **Compound prepositions :**

The dog ran across the road**.**
There is a tree behind the house.
He ran beyond the boundaries,
There is a tree berween the two houses.
I sat beside my friend.
The traveller rested beneath the tree
He is standing before me

**3. Phrase prepositions.**

Owing in ill-health, he could not attend the function.
I have prepared the report in accordance with your instructions.
By dint of hard work, he rose to eminence.
By virtue of his intelligence, he secured the urst rank.
Inspite of my repeated warnings, he did not mend his ways.
It is better to take rest now instead of continuing to work.
In response to your advertisement, I wish to apply for the post.

On account of poverty, he is unhappy.
A nation can become rich only by means of technology.
I said it by way of warning him against the danger.
With reference to your letter, we wish to state that we can supply the materials to you.
In exurse of ume, even enemies become friends.
There is a pillar in frent of the temple.
I did all that in order to help him.
In case of need, you write to me.
He went to Madras along with his mother.
He is working hard with an eye to the first rank.
In the event of the failure of electricity, the same ticket will hold good for the next show,

In consequence of his laziness, he failed.
With a view to helping him, I collected some money.
He died for the sake of his principles,
He gave up his claim in favour of his friend.

**4. Participal prepositions:**

Barring unforeseen developments, the plan will be implemented. Considering the nature of the work, I should say that the pay ment is very low.
Notwithstanding all opposition, he contested elections. Pending further orders, he will continue in service.

## USE OF PREPOSITIONS

Study carefully the following sentences in which appropriate prepositions have been used. There are no rules for the usage of prepositions. The only way to learn the correct usage of prepositions is to study the sentences in which they are used properly and to master their usage.

She is partial to her children.
I always rely on God's help.
I believe in God.
The devotee was absorbed in meditation.
We should prefer righteousness to riches.
He was accused of having stolen a jewel.
My father deals in steel furniture.
My father left for Bombay
The Ramayana consists of 24000 stanzas
The beggar was blind of one eye.
Those who are sick of city life must spend sometime in the countryside. The servant was obliged to his master for the help he received from him.
We should be obedient to our teachers.
I owe my progress to my parents.
We travelled from place to place preaching our doctrines.
They ran Into a lot of trouble. This is true of scientific work.
This rule applies to the fear of destitution.

He concealed the truth from me.
I am not in a hurry
Mankind has failed to profit by the new techniques.
We should profit from our experiences.
Anticipation is the enemy of pleasure.
We should refrain from hurting others' feelings.
He is swollen with pride
The end of physic is our body's health.
Prospero had Ariel at his command.
Whoever loved that loved not at first sight?

There is no truth in what you say.
Faustus feared that he had to remain in hell for ever.
Your songs are poisoned arrows in my breast.
The mighty perish in their might.
His eyes stood wide with horror.
Fate hurled me on my father's spear.
She hurled abuses at me.
He who comes to seek for wisdom shall not return disappointed.
I hear it in the deep heart's core.
Weary of life, she committed suicide.
Gods love the depth; nor the tumult of the soul.
Death is the end of life.
They ceased from their wanderings.
He kept watching the stars hours by hours.
The carth is a fit home for man.
She longed for peace.
This poem is worthy of praise.
The proper study of mankind is Man.
He is a man with a reflective turn of mind.
I will never set eyes on it again.
This is the only weakness in his character.
I am disgusted with his behaviour.
The desire for wealth is by no means new.
I am against asceticism. He has attachment for wealth.
I do not insist upon your accepting my theory.
I do not believe in belief.
He was silent for sometime
He was fortunate in securing that job.
Take care of your health.
I read a novel about Africa written by Joyce Cary.
I have great reverence for my teacher.
I found some use for the book I bought.
The philosopher thought a lot about death.
I was born in a village.
He does not know even the rudiments of architecture.
There is no solution to this problem.
She is the more talented of the two girls.

He is the tallest boy in the class.
I looked at the picture with deep interest.
I am always fond of dogs.
The mother rescued the child from danger.
Little by little they occupied the whole area.
The worst is still to come.
We walked miles without seeing any human habitation.

She was ashamed of her conduct.
We should be aware of our weaknesses.
I shall have finished the work by 4 p. m.
We are going for a walk.
We are not used to this sort of treatment.
On my way to school, I met a friend of mine.
He spends a lot of money on books.
The boys stood in a line.
He did it against my express wishes.
Man is always tossed between hopes and fears..
There were foot-prints on the sands of the desert.
I am accustomed to working late into the night.
It was no fault of mine.
God is good to me.
Society rests upon the spirit of co-operation.
He was totally ignorant of the facts.
The novel is totally devoid of humour.
The dog is faithful to its master.
Studies serve for delight; for ornament and for ability.
The convict begged for mercy.
The servant appealed to his master for help.
Isaac's playmates were enchanted with his new windmill.
I must look for a miller.
That was an object of great wonder to people.
Mrs. Newton was married again to a Clergyman.
A thief crept into the house.
We should not take anything for granted.
Science deals with matter.
Science reveals to us the truth about various physical phenomena.
He had to makeup for the loss he hid suffered.
We should instil into children noble ideas.
We should reckon with the developments in science.
We will take all these facts into consideration.
Man is capable of creating beautiful things.
Human beings should not impinge upon each other's rights.
He has got hold of the right end of the stick.
No philosophy is an anodin. for the tooth-ache.
I am playing with the idea of writing a novel.
Happiness is a quality of character.
I could not return his smiles with any degree of severity.
Robbers set the house on fire.
I have been waiting for him day and night.
My father is a man of dignity.

He was in a hospital for eight months.
The authorities approved of my plan.
They have been negotiating for months now.
I delivered the message to him.

Here is a letter for you.
God is the life of my life.
Our knowledge is always an asset to us.
He is naturally proud of his literary achievements.
He was destined to suffer thus.
Bhima was endowed with a mighty strength.
Vodka is distilled from rye..
He bowed to several well-dressed persons.
Beau Tibbs invited Altangi to dinner
He wept whenever he was reminded of his
wife who had died.
Our happiness depends on our attitude to life.
It was the darkest evening of the year.
She laid the table for supper.
They sat down to supper
The safety of this method lies in its precision.
My father is angry with me.
My teacher is angry at my laziness.
I called at his house yesterday.
The clerk called on the officer to discuss some matter with him.
My father will come back before 6 p. m.
It is now 4 o'clock by my watch.
He is a man of great abilities. The train will arrive before 2p m.
I will complete the work within three hours.
We should aim at securing the first rank in the examination.
I shook bands with him.
The old woman fell into a deep well.
She instantly called for the carriage, I fell on my knees to beg for his pardon.
It was 9 o'clock at night.
Never mind what happens to me.
I was interrupted by the noise.
It is very cruel of you to laugh at me.
There was a fight between Cuff and Dobbin
Napoleon emerged to eminence as a great General. India is known for its nonviolence.
The professor dealt with poetry yesterday.
The pilgrims met with an accident
My father stared at me in anger.
Shakuntala parted from her foster-father. Kanva when she went to Hastinapura
I cannot part with this pen because it was presented to me.
The teacher did not agree to my suggestion.
Those who are in despair deserve sympathy.
Let us proceed with the work on hand.
My father did not agree with me on that point.
Drivers of motor-vehicles should conform to the traffic rules.

of

## Exercise-23

1. Iam deeply indebited _____you_____the help you gave me.
2. Prior _____my going to Bombay, I was in Madras.
5. I wish _____your welfare,
6. I yearn_____- mental peace.
7. He is canvassing_____his candidate,
8. Beware-_____the anger of a patient man.
9. We should not be sensitive_____criticism.
10. He has been ill_____two days,
11. He has been ill_____last Monday.
12. Bangalore is famous_____Its weather.
13. None_____the brave deserves the fair.
14. You will suceeed-_____the long run.
15. Birds_____a feather flock together,
16. I am the monarch_____all I survey.
17. We should abide_____ the wishes of our parents.
18. My mother is angry_____ me.
19. My teacher was annoyed_____ me.
20. We should not boast_____our achievements,
21. We should be aware_____ the lastest developments in Science,
22 . The manager himseif connived_____the fraud,
23. He prevented me-_____going to Madras,
24. We should not despair__success through there may be difficulties on the way.
25. Gandhiji died_____a noble cause.
26. The child died_____ a
27. He died_____cancer. fall.
28. A lawyer should possess the gift_____the gab.
29. We should grapple_____our difficulties
30. We should not interfere_____the affairs of others.
31. God inflicts punishment_____sinners.
32. We should not indulge _____idle talk.
33. He jumped_____a hasty conclusion..
34. We should not meddle_____the affairs_____others.
35. She parted_____ her friends.
36. I do not like_____art_____this pen.
37. Every day we should pray_____God,
38. He is justly proud_____his achievements.
39. We should refrain_____criticising others.
40. Someone has tampered_____the document
41. Fortune smiled_____my endeavours
42. He always sneers_____others.
43. He sticks_____his decision.
44. Life is not a bed_____roses.
45. A thing--beauty is a joy-_____ever.
46. Sweet are the uses_____adversity.
47. The first--beauty must be the first_____power
48. Brevity is the soul-_____wit.

of

## EXERCISE 24

Insert suitable prepositions:

1. 1 go- school_____ car
2. He would have finished his work_____now
3. I will see you- nine_____Monday,
4. They are presently staying_____their uncle.
5. I called_____the principal yesterday,
6, I called_____your house yesterday.
7. I know the poem_____heart
8. This dress is-_____you. duty
9. He has gone_____Bombay-official
10. I travelled to Agra_____first class
11. I sent the letter_____ air mail
12. I did not enjoy the novel_____the least
13. He sat next_____her.
14. 1 will come back_____three hours.
15. We should listen_____the advice of
16. What did you do that_____?
17. 1 lived -Bombay-_____-three years.
18. I will phone you_____lunch leave a blank 3 O' clock.
19. _____The time we had walked three miles, he was completely tired.
20. We slept_____midnight,
21. He is fishing_____troubled waters.
22. She jumped_____ a ditch,
23. I depend_____ you fully
24. He bought a beautiful doll_____his daughter.
25. He gave a pen_____his son
26. He caught the ball_____his right hand.
27. Women _____children are called barren.
28. He lost the fight_____all his boasting.
29. The proud driver_____the first English railway train was George Stephenson
30. I have to interest_____such discussions.
31. The boys are_____the room. 32. Do not throw it--fire.
33. He will come back_____a week,
.35. My father stayed_____Japan-a year.
34. He cut the apple_____the knife
36. The mouse was running_____the room.
37. I am staying_____Shanti Lodge.
38. What is_____your hand?
39. The soldiers stood_____attention,

# VIII CONJUNCTION

of

**A conjunction is a joining word:**

It does not take an object. It does not qualify or modify any other word. It combines words or phrases or clauses or sentences

**e. g.**

Delhi and Bombay are large cities in India.
He is intelligent but lazy. He is lazy; yet he has passed.
He is sad but hopeful.
The air is fresh in the house and outside the house.
The rain bad stopped before we reached the station.
Both Rama and Krishna were present.
Neither he nor his brother came.
The teacher as well as the students was present in
He passed, so he is cheerful. He is taller than I.
Though he is fat, he runs fast.
He is fat; yet he runs fast.
You must go there whether you like it or not.
As we sow; so we reap.
Both my friend & I have passed the examination.
You can either go there by bus or by train.
Work hard or you will fail.
No sooner did he saw me than he ran away.
Either tell the truth or keep quiet.
He was not only praised but also rewarded.
He is not only a poet but also a novelist.
He is poor but honest.

**Kinds of Conjunctions:**

1. Co-ordinating Conjunctions.
2. Sub-ordinating Conjunctions.

**(1) Co-ordinating Conjunctions** combine sentences of the same rank. Two sentences are co-ordinate or equal in rank when one does not depend on the other. Sentences which are equal in rank can be combined in four different ways; so we have four different kinds of co-ordinate conjunction.

**(a). Cumulative:** The cumulative conjunctions are used to add two statements or facts, **e. g.**

You want to tell me; and I have no objection to hearing you.
The criminal was both fined and imprisoned.
He is intelligent; and you also.
He is cricketer and a wrestler too.
Tennyson as well as Eliot has dramatized the story of St. Thomas Becket.
She no less than you is to blame for this loss.
Not only did he attend the function but brought his wife also.
Macbeth, of course, became king; now he was not happy.
He has come; well, let us meet him.

**(b) Alternative**: The alternative conjunction is used to offer an alternative between one statement and another, e.g.

Either he must die or face disgrace.
John is neither blind nor deaf.
She must weep, or, she will die.
You must work hard; otherwise, you will fail.

**(c) Adversative:** The adversative conjunction is used to indicate. E.g

He is poor but he is happy.
He is wealthy yet he is not happy.
The world is not a happy place, nevertheless people love to live in it.
God made the country whereas man made the town.
Do what you like; only do not show me your face again.

**(d) Illative Conjunction:** The Illative conjunction is indicate a conclusion e. g.

He insulted me; so I do not like him.
He is very haughty therefore I dislike him.

**(ii) The Subordinating Conjunction** is used to connect a sub- ordinate clause to the main clause in a sentence. The principal clause the conjunction the subordinate clause.

You will pass if you study well.

There are nine ways in which the subordinate clause is connected to the Principal clause,

(a) Apposition (b) Causation (c) Effect (d) Purpose (e) Condi tion (1) Concession or contrast (g) Comparison (h) Extent or manner (1) Time:

**(a) Apposition:**

He promised that he would help me.

She wrote to me that she would arrive at Agra very soon.

**(b) Causative:**

He failed because he did not work hard.

We shall go home as it is already late.

**(e) Effect:**

He worked so much that he became ill.

**(d) Purpose:**

We eat that we may live. He ran fast so that he might catch the bus.

**(e) Conditions:**

I will do this work if you pay me money.

You must do this work whether you like it or not.

I will go to America provided I get a scholarship.

**(f) Concession or Contrast:**

He runs fast though he is fat.

You will not succeed however much you may try to lift that stone.

**(g) Comparison:**

She is as intelligent as I.

I like tea no less than coffee.

**(h) Extent or Manner :**

You will reap as you sow.

She has not yet arrived so far as I know.

**(i) Time:**

We went out as soon as the train stopped.

He struggled hard before he attained success.

He returned home after he closed his shop.

No one can harm us so long as we are good,

## EXERCISE 25

**Insert suitable Conjunctions:**

1. Rem_____ Sta went to the forest
2. Joys_____sorrows come in succession.
3. Sorrows come not in singles_____leave a Maak battalions
4. Bread _____butter is their only food,
5. I know_____he is a gentleman
6. _____John_____ Kerim were present,
7. Birsed are the merelfal _____they shall obtain merey,
8. Bewed are the pore in heart_____ they shall see God,
9. Do not think _____I came to destroy.

10. Ask_____ will be given to you,
11. Judge not_____ you be judged.
12. 1 am right_____you are wrong.
13. She sells fruits_____ Bowers
14. _____Rama_____John played well
15. He is lazy_____he has passed.
16. Slow_____ steady wins the race.
17. _____you regret your action, I will excuse you,
18. He is intelligent_____lazy
19. He did his work well_____ he earned a promotion,
20. He sat down_____ he was tired,
21. Please, wait here_____I return,
22. He worked hard_____ he failed.
23. He did not succeed_____he worked hard
24. Man proposes_____ God disposes.
25. Remain _____ you are,
26. Some people eat_____they may live.
27, 1 will help you_____you are honest,
28, Death_____dhgrace has to be faced.
29. I like you_____ will help you.
30. Spare the rod_____spoil the child,
31. Keep quiet_____ grt out.
32. He spoke the truth-_____he was punished,
33. I will build a house_____you give me a loan.
34._____he is poor, he is happy.
35. Time_____tide waits for no man,
36. I took an oath_____I would never speak falsehood.
37. He likes movies_____dramas
38. Work bard_____you will fail.
39. Be obedient_____I will not help you,
40. Always be kind_____compassionate
41. Rama is taller-_____1
42. Farmers sow _____they may reap.
43. Heat expands _____cold contracts.
44. He was in danger_____he did not worry.

## IX INTERJECTION

Actually, an Interjection is not a part of speech because it is sot grammatically connected with the sentence in which it occurs. It is a mere exelamation expressing a strong feeling

Interjections are of four kinds namely (1) single sounds (1) phrases (3) some verbs and parts of speech (4) The main verb sed as an interjection

1. Surprise____Ab! what a beautiful building it is!
Grief-Alas !, Ah 1, Oh !, Alack
Joy or applause-Hurrah!
Admiration Bravo!

Amusement-Ha! Ha!
Drawing attention-Lo 1, Hark!, Hist !
Expressing contempt-Pooh! Pooh 1, Tush! Tush!
Calling someone_____Hello !
Condemnation-Fic! Fir!

2.The following are phrasal interjections

For shame_____Good-bye. It means God be with you.
Good gracious. Good heavens, Well-done!

3. Certain verbs and other parts of speech.

(a) Noun: Horrid sight! Duncr
(b) Pronoun: What a tragic situation
(c) Adjective: Strange!
(d) Imperative: Hear! Hear!
(e) Subjunctive: Would that I had gone there

4. In some exclamatory sentences, we use only the main verb without mentioning the helping verb and the subject

Why imagine such things!

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# THE TENSE

Tense is not the same as time but the tense indicate phases. In a rough manner, we can also say that tense refers to time. There are three tenses; namely:

(1) The Present Tense (2) The Past Tense; and
(3) The Future Tense.

**Each tense has four aspects; namely**

(1) The Indefinite (2) The Continuous

(3) The Perfect (4) The Perfect Continuous.

## I. The Present Tense (1) The Present Indefinite :

Definition-This tense form is used to describe (1) a routine action (2) a habitual action (3) a universal truth and (4) a past event in the historical present tense.

**A routine action**
The teacher teaches grammar
He types letters
I go to my office every day
**The habitual actions.**
She drinks coffee
They play cricket.
I take tea.
**The universal truths.**
Sugar is sweet.
The sun shines.
She cooks food.
The peon rings the bell.

He smokes frequently
She eats fruits
Heat expands and cold contracts metals.
The events of the past or The historical present tense.
The sun is hot
Prevention is better than cure.
Rama fights against Ravana and kills him.
Ashoka invades Kalinga; and achieves a victory.
The British come to India as merchants and later they become rulers.

**The future action.**
My father comes home today only at 9 p.m.
He goes to Madras next week.

## The Present Continuous Tense.

Definition-This tense shows an action which is going on now.
I am writing a story.
The sun is shining
She is singing a song.
The fan is rurning
The light is burning
Note: Sometimes this tense is also used to demote a future
My daughter is going to bombay tomorrow
The manager is going to Madras next week.

## The Present Perfect

Definition-This tense is used to describe an action which is over just now.
I have done the work.
The sun has risen
She has typed the letter.
My mother has prepared coffee.
I have written a story.

Note: The present perfect tense can also be used to describe an action which took place at any time in the past if it is linked to the present. But time should not be mentioned.

(1) I have seen that movie We may say this though we might have seen the movie twenty years ago, but it a wrong to use this tense to describe an action which took place even a moment ago if time is mentioned.
(2) She has written a letter. (We can say this even if she wrote the letter some days ago).
(3) She has written a letter yesterday (This is an incorrect sentence, because when time is mentioned we should use only past tense. So the correct sentence would be, "She wrote a letter yesterday.')

# The Present Perfect Continuous Tease:

Definition The present perfect continuous tense shows an action that was taking place in the past, that is taking place now and that is likely to continue. This may be with or without breaks. The teacher has been teaching English.

She has been singing a song
I have been working in a factory
The boys have been playing cricket.
The girls have been dancing

**II The Past Tense**
(a) The Past Indefinite Tense:
(b) Definition: This tense shows

She broke the glass.
He sang a song She kicked the ball.
I wrote a book I sold away my scoote

## (b) The Past Continuous Tense:

Definition: This tense shows an action which was going on for sometime in the past

I was studying my lessons from 8 a. m. to 10 a. m. yesterday.
It was raining yesterday for nearly one hour.
My father was telling us a story when our uncle came.

The teacher taught English. (The past indefinite)
The teacher was teaching English. (The past continuous)
The teacher had taught English before he came to India. (The past perfect)
The teacher had been teaching English. (The past perfect con tinuous)
The teacher will teach English. (The future indefinite)
The teacher will be teaching English. (The future continuous)

The teacher will have taught English.. (The future perfect)
The teacher will have been teaching English. (The future perfect continuous)

# VI The Active and The Passive Voice

The verb has two voices, namely the active and the passive voices. In the active voice, the subject is the doer of the action. In the passive voice, the subject is the sufferer of the action, e.g.

(1) The teacher teaches English. (Active)
English is taught by the teacher. (Passive)

Note:-When we change the active voice into the passive voice the subject becomes the object and the object becomes the subject (Generally,the word by precedes the object) The verb is broken into its tense form and its past participle form.

The following chart shows the forms of the verbs to be used in the passive voice in various teases.

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# Tease Chart (Passive Voice)

| | Indefinite | Continuous | Perfect | Perfect Continuous |
|---|---|---|---|---|
| **Present** | **Is, am, are + form of verb** | **Is, am, are + being+III form of ver** | **Has been, have been + III form of Verb** | * |
| **Past** | **Was, were,+ III form** | **Was, were+ being+ III form** | **Had been + III form of verb** | * |
| **Future** | **Will be shall be + III form of Verb** | * | **Will have been , shall have been+ III form of verb** | * |

Note: The active voice is used when the doer is important passive voice is used when the action is important. e.g.

## I The Present Tense

## 1. The Present Indefinite:

She takes coffee. (Active)
Coffee is taken by her. (Passive)

**2. The Present Continuous Tense:**
She is taking coffee. (Active)
Coffee is being taken by her. (Passive)

3. **The Present Perfect Tense:**
   She has taken coffee. (Active)
   Coffee has been taken by her. (Passive)
4. **The Present Perfect Continuous Tense:**
   She has been taking coffee. (Active)
   (No Passive Voice)

**II The Past Tease:**
**1. The Past Indefinite Tense:**
She took coffee (Active)
Coffee was taken by her. (Passive)
**2. The Past Continuous Tense:**
She was taking coffee. (Active)
Coffee was being taken by her. (Passive)
**3. The Past Perfect Tense :**

(This is also called the Plu-perfect tense.)
She had taken coffee before she went out. (Active)
Coffee bad been taken by her before she went out. (Passive)

**5. The Past Perfect Continuous Tense:**
She had been taking coffee. (Active)
(No Passive voice)

## III The Future Tense:

1. The Future Indefinite Tense :
2. She will take coffee. (Active)

Coffee will be taken by her. (Passive)
2. The Future Continuous Tense:
She will be taking coffee. (Active)
(No Passive Voice)

**3. The Future Perfect Tease :**
She will have taken coffee. (Active)
Coffee will have been taken by her. (Passive)

3. The Future Perfect Continuous Tense:
4. She will have been taking coffee. (Active)
5. (No Passive Voice).

## EXERCISE 20

Change into the Passive Voice:

1. God sees the truth,
2. The sun brightens the world,
3. I saw her at the County Ball.
4. Shakespeare wrote many plays,
5. Lear banished his daughter.
6. I hate hypocrisy.
7. Rama killed Ravana.
8. She lost a book... .
9 Brutus loved Caesar.
10. Clasing hated Caesar.
11. Boys play crieket.
12. He can prove his innocence.
13 He forgot his promise.
14. She will write a letter,
15. Your memory surprises me
16. Liftle strokes fell great oaks.
17. We elected him leader.
18. She loves music.
19. The tiger killed a lamb.
20, Dr. Johnson wrote the first dictionary.
21. She has done the work.
22. The dog bit the girl.
23. She was eating a mango.
24. She will have done the work.
25 I know the truth.

of

## EXERCISE 21

Change into the active voice.

1.This poem was written by Milton,
2.The hymn was sung by the Priest.
3. The letter has been typed by her.
4. The song was sung by her.
5. The work will be done by him.
6. The bridge is being built by the engineer.
7 The essay was being written by him.
8 The flowers have been sold by her
9 Vegetables have been brought by bim
10 Coffee was made by her.
11. The car was driven by my father
12. The book was torn by Hari,
13 The purse has been stolen by her.
14 The lesson has been done by the teacher,
15 The house will be built by a contractor.

(V) Most verbs in English are both transitive and intransitive. Therefore it is better to say whether a verb is used transitively or intransitively.

The peon rang the bell. (Transitive)
The bell rang sometime ago. (Intransitive)
She spoke the truth (Transitive)
She spoke very well. (Intransitive)
1 can feel the bottom of the well. (Transitive)
She felt happy. (Intransitive)
We should not lose our books (Transitive)
He foar heavily. (Intransitive)
She wrote a letter (Transitive)
She wrote slowly (Intransitive)
He sang a song. (Transitive)
He sang sweetly (Intransitive)
We ear food (Transitive)
We ear slowly. (Intransitive)
The intransitive verbs used transitively

She runs fast. (Intransitive)
He ruou a school. (Transitive)
He walks slowly (Intransitive)
The rider walked the horse home. (Transitive)
Birds fly in the sky. (Intransitive
He flies a kite. (Transitive) )
Some intransitive verbs become transitive verbs if a preposition Is added to them.

We should not laugh at others.
He looked at the picture.
They talked about religion.

She spoke to her son about the matter.
I wish for your welfare.
Some transitive verbs can be used intransitively.
The driver stopped the bus. (Transitive)
The bus stopped. (Intransitive)
He broke the jar. (Transitive)
The jar broke. (Intransitive)
He opened the door. (Transitive)

The college opens at 10:00 a m. (Intransitive)

## (VI) Verbs of incomplete predication:

Read the following!

She laughs. She seems cheerful.

Note: The first sentence gives a complete meaning, but the second sentence does not give a full meaning if we say only, "she stems". The verb seems requires a word to complete its meaning. Such a verb is called a verb of incomplete predication. The word cheerful which is required to complete the sense of the verb is called the complement of the verb.
Note: The verbs of incomplete predication generally express the ideas of being, becoming, seeming and appearing. The complement may be a noun or an adjective. When the complement describes the subject, it is called the subjective complement.

The dog is mad
She seems sad
John become a soldier.
Sugar tastes nieet
The rose smells aweet.
The boy looks hoppy
The sun is bright
He seems busy
He is a doctor.

Nour: If the subjective complement is a noun, it is in the nominative Case

Certain Transitive Verbs take, in addition to an object, a complement.

The boys chose Rama captain.
The flattery made him vain
The judge found him guilty
The named him Shyam
He called me a fool
Food makes the body strong.
I thought him a fool
I consider him honest.
He called Hari a liar
We chose him leader

Note: In the sentences given above, the complements describe objects. So they are objective complements If the objective complements are nouns they are in the objective

## (VII) Strong and Weak Verbs:

The principal parts of the verb in English are:
1 The present tense, 3. The past participle.

of

2 The past tense,

They are said to be the principal parts of the verb because from them we can form all other parts of the verb.

The verbs which can be changed into the past tense by the addition of "ed, d' or 'r' are called weak verbs.

| | |
|---|---|
| Talk Talked | Examine Examined |
| Walk Walked | Spend Spent |
| Want Wanted | Plough Ploughed |
| Like Liked | Stitch Stitched |
| Book Booked | Push Pushed |

In the case of strong verbs the past tense is formed by changing the inside vowel

| | |
|---|---|
| Run Ran | Sing Sang |
| Write Wrote | Grow Grew |
| Speak Spoke | Drive Drove |
| Begin Began | Bear Bore |
| Ring Rang | Break Broke |

Here is a list of the three forms of Verbs. The three forms are

1. The present tense
2. The past tense.
3. The past participle form.

The present participle can be formed by adding 'ing to any Present Tense Verb.

## USAGE

(a) The Present Participle can be used in three ways.

**1. In the Continuous Tense.**
1 am writing.
**2. As a Noun**
Walking is good exercise.

**3. An an Adjective.**
It is a sleeping lion.
(b) The Past Participle can be used in three ways:
**1. In the Perfect Tense.**
I have done the work.
**2. In the Passive Voice.**
The work has been done by me.
**3. Many Past Participle forms can be used as adjectives.**
This is a broken glass.

**EXERCISE 22**

of

Now use all these verbs in the you a good practice in the usage of verbs. various forms. This will give

| Present Tense | Past Tense | Past Participle |
|---|---|---|
| Act | Acted | Acted |
| Accept | Accepted | Accepted |
| Admit | Admitted | Admitted |
| Arise | Arose | Arisen |
| Adopt | Adopted | Adopted |
| Adore | Adored | Adored |
| Affect | Affected | Affected |
| Agree | Agreed | Agreed |
| Alter | Altered | Altered |
| Ask | Asked | Asked |
| Attend | Attended | A ttended |
| Bake | Baked | Baked |
| Bear (bring forth) | Bore | Borne/Born |
| Bear (Carry) | Bore | Borne |
| Bend | Bent | Bent |
| Beg | Begged | Begged |
| Beguile | Beguiled | Beguiled |
| Believe | Believed | Believed |
| Behave | Behaved | Behaved |
| Bid (Tell) | Bade | Bidden |
| Bid (at auction) | Bid | Bid |
| Bet | Bet | Bet |
| Betake | Betook | Betaken |
| Bar | Barred | Barred |
| Blow | Blew | Blown |
| Wreak | | |

CORRECT USAGE

1. Here is a series of strong verbs used in sentences. Three sentences are given for each verb using it in its recent indefinite, past indefinite and past participle forms. The past participle has to be used in all the three perfect tenses The past participle of the action verb should be used in the passive vole of every verk. Some past participles can be used as adjectives.

1 The dog eats meat. The dog ate meat
The dog has eaten meat
2 I always choose the right books. -I chose the right books
I have chosen the right books.
3. The farmer digs a well. The farmer dug a well.
The farmer has dug a well.
4. My father drives a car. My father drove a car.
My father has driven a car
5.Leaves fall in autumn. Leaves fell from the tree.
Leaves have fallen from the tree,

6. She drinks tea. She drank tea.
She has drunk tea..
7.The bullocks draw the cart. The bullocks drew the cart.
The bullocks have drawn the cart

8. We do out duty. We did our duty. We have done our duty
9. She breaks the glam. She broke the glass.
She has broken the glass.
10 Mad dogs bite us A mad dog bit him.
A mad dog has bitten him.
11. They begin the work. They began the work.
They have begun the work.
12. She beats her children. She beat her children yesterday.
She has beaten her children.
13. She bears healthy children. She bore a child.
She borne a child.
14. The worker bears the weight. The worker bore the weight.
The worker has borne the weight.
15. He always comes on time. He came yesterday.
He has come.
16. She binds the corn. She bound the corn.
She has bound the corn.
17. He bids me farewell. He bade me farewell.
He has bidden me farewell.
18. He bids at the auction. He bid at the auction yesterday.
He has bid it for Rs. 50/-.
19. He fights well. He fought well.
He has fought against many enemies.
20. The sun shines brightly. The sun shone brightly.
The sun has shone brightly.
21. We know the truth - We knew the truth.
We have known him for many yours.

22. He always lies to me. He lied to me.
He has led to me.

23. I lie on my bed. I lay on my bed.
I have last on my bed.

24. The he lays cpp The heo has laid eggs.
The hen laid eggs
25. He rides a horse-He rud a horse.
He has ridden a hone
26. The poun rings the bell The peon rang the bell.

The peon has rang the bell.
27. The arises in the east. The sun rose early.
The sun has ris

28. She runs fast- She ran fast.

She has run the whole distance
29. The dog shakes its tail. - The dog shook its tail.
The dog has shaken its tail.

30. She sings sweetly-She sang sweetly.
She has ang the song.
31. Farmers grow vegetables. The farmer grew vegetables.
The farmer has grown vegetables.

32 The ship sinks into the seas. The ship sank into the sea,
The ship has sunk into the sea.

33. Benevolent men give gifts to the poor. I gave him a book.
He has given his book to me.

34 They go home -They want home.
They have gone away.

35. Birds By in the sky Ta: bird daw away..
The bird has Blown away.

36. The hunter shoots lions-The hunter shot a lion.
The hunter has shot a lion.
37. He finds fault with everyone He found fault with me
He has found a suitable job.

38 We forget our bills. I forgot to pay him.
I have forgotten your name.

39 God slays the wicked. - Bhima slew Bakasura.
The giant has slain the traveller.
40. She wears white dress - Yesterday I wore a brown suit.
He has worn a fine dress.

41. The weaver weaves cloth. - The weaver wove cloth.
The weaver has woven cloth.
42 He throws the ball. He threw the ball.
He has thrown away the rubbish.

43. He writes stories. He wrote a novel.
He has written a novel.

44. She speaks good English-She spoke English fluently.
She has spoken the truth.

4 Thieves steal money. He stole a purse.
He has stolen her purse.

46. We strive to achieve perfection. We strove to achieve perfection.
They have striven hard to achieve perfection.

47. He swims well. He awam well.
He has swum across the river.

48. He takes tea. He took tea.
He has taken tea.

49. She tears the cloth. She tore the cloth.

She has torn the cloth.
50. He swears on God. He swore on God.
He has sworn not to utter falsehood.

**II. Some weak verbs other than those that form their past tense and past participle forms by the addition of 'd' or 'ed'**

1. We buy books - We bought book
   We have bought some books.

2 He deals with grammar. He dealt with grammar.
He has dealt with the subject fully
3. Cows feed on grass. The cow fed on grass.
The cow has fed on grass
4. He catches the ball He caught the ball.
He has caught the ball
5. They build houses. He built a house.
He has built a house.

6 Clouds bring us rain. She brought flowers.
She has brought a pen.
7. I keep my money in a box. I kept my money in a box.
I have kept my money in a box.
8. I lay books always there. I laid the book there.
I have laid the book there

9. He loses his book. He lost his books.
He has lost his books

10 The teacher teaches grammar. The teacher taught grammar.
The teacher has taught grammar
11. He shuts the door. He shut the door,
He had shut the door.
12. I put a book always on the table 1 put the book on the tabl
I have put the book on the table

13. She feels happy She felt happy to hear the news
We have felt the need very much
14. He leads moucy-He lost money to me.
He has leat some money to me
15 My mother makes coffeeMy mother made coffee.
My mather has made coffee

16. The teacher tells us stories He told us a nice story.
I have told you the truth

17. She woops over har misfortune-
-She wept over her misfortune.

He has wept a thousand tars
18. She sells flowers. He sold away his scooter.

She has sold away all her books.

19. We sat him on errands. I sat for him.
I have sent for him.

20. She thinks clearly-I thought about the matter.
I have thought about it.

21. This cloth costs Rs. 50/- a metre - This coat cost mo Rs. 250/
It has cost me a lot
22. The sun sets in the west. The sun set in the weat
The sun has set.
23. He spreads the nows-He spread the news
He has spread the news.

24. The old woman dwells in a hut
I have dwelt in a village.

25. I have a car. I had a car
I have had such experiences.

26. He reads slowly-He read slowly.
He has read the letter.
27. He meets his friends every day. -He met his friend on the way-
I have met him many times.

28. We pay him his salary. We paid him salary.
We have paid him his salary.
29. All seek felicity. He sought felicity.
I have sought it.

30. I learn English-I learat Eaglish.
I have learat English.

31. He sleeps in his room. He slept well last night.
He has slept in his room.

32. She cuts the fruit. She cut the fruit She has cut her finger.
She dwelt in a hut.

33. She spells words correctly. She spelt the word correctly
I have spelt the word correctly.

## (VII) The Indicative:

of

## Read the following:

The teacher teaches English. The teacher likes to teach English. : In the first sentence the verb he is a Finite Verb. Finite means limited. This verb is limited by the person and the number of the subject

In the second sentence, the verb to teach in infinite, that is unlimited.
It is not limited by the person and number of the subject.

She wants to learn music
They hope to succeed in their attempt
He wanted to write a story.

I wish to learn music.

Milton wanted to write a great epic poem.
He desired to become the king.

She wanted to sing on that occasion.
Boys love to play cricket 1 like drink only milk.

Note: In the sentences above, the italicised verbs are infinitives
The uses of the Infinitive Verb:
1. The infiniture may be used as the subject of a verb, e g

To err is human To forgivee is divine
To live in hell is better than slavery in Heaven.

**2 The infinitive can be used as the object of a transitive verb eg**
They want to play cricket. He likes to read novels. 1 want to write a letter.

**3: The Infinitive can be used as the complement of a verb. e. g.**
My greatest pleasure is to ring

His habit is an walk slowly.

**4. The infinitive can be used as the object of a preposition, e.g**

We were about a SHAPE. I have no choice but to obey.

**5. The infinitive can be used as an objective complement, eg**
We saw her go. I heard him speak.

**6.The infinitive is used to qualify a verb, eg**
I came to see the play. We eat to live.
Some live to eat.

**7. The infinitive may qualify a subject, c. g.**
English is easy to learn. These fruits are good to eat.
He is anxious to go.

8 . The infinitive may qualify a noun, e. g
She has no cause to complain.
This is the time to play. This house is to let

9. The infinitive may qualify a sentence, c. g
To tell you the truth, I do not know anything about.
His heart broke to pieces, so to speak.

10. This infinitive is used without the siga "to" with such verbs as need, dare, see, hear, bid, let e. g.

The teacher bid me read the poem
The teacher let us go out.
I made him stand up.
You need not type the letter now.

You dare not speak thus
1 saw him kill a dog.
We heard him speak

.

Note: If need and dare are conjugated with do they take to e. g.

You do not need to go there.
He does not dare to oppose me.

11. The infinitive is used without the sign "to" after helping verbs.

He must do the work.
She may go to Madras.
You shall do the work.
I will help you.
We should obey the rules.
He would help me.
They might come.
She could dance.
They do demand it.
I can swim.
We must speak the truth.

12. The infinitive is used without "to" with such expressions, as "had better", "had rather", "would rather", "rather than", "sooner than" c. g.

You had better go now..
I had rather study than play.
He would rather die than face disgrace.

13. The infinitive verb also has the passive voice, c. g.

| Active Voice | Passive Voice |
|---|---|
| 1. Present Tense | |
| Active Voice | |
| To hate | to be hated |
| 2. Present Perfect | |
| To have done | to have been done |

The infinitive has passive voice only in the present indefinite and the present perfect form.

## (IX) The Participle:

The participle is a verbal adjective. Study the following:

I saw a man carrying a box.
Thinking all were asleep, the burglar broke into the house.

Note: These are present participles ending with "ing". The present participle may take an object if it is formed from a transitive verb. We can form the past participle from every verb. It shows a completed action or a state

Blinded by anger, he killed his enemy.
Time wasted is time lost.
In addition to the present and past participles there is the perfect participle, e. g.

Having done the work, he went home.
Having lost the money, he was greatly upset.

In the following sentences, the participles are used as adjectives; therefore they are called participial adjectives, eg

A rolling stone gathers no moss.
Barking dogs do not bite.

He is a learned man.

We are playing a losing game.

This is burnt wood
This is a broken far

The present participle may be used la the continuous tease, c. g.

I am writing a letter
We are sleeping

The past participle is used in the perfect tense, e. g.
I have done the work.
She has broken the jar.
The past participle is used in the passive voice, e. g.
The letter was written by him.
The glass was broken by him.

Note: A participle is a verbal adjective.

It can take an object, if it is formed from a transitive verb.
It can be modified by an adverb.

It can qualify a noun or a pronoun.

It can be compared..

Barking dogs do not bite (It is used as an adjective.)

Seeing the cobra, I ran away. (It takes an object.)

Slowly walking towards the gate, he looked out. (It is modified by an adverb.)

Being poor, he cannot buy a scooter. (It is used as an adjective. It qualifies the pronoun "he".)
This is the most pressing need of the time. (Here it is compared.)
**The participle may be used absolutely with a noun or pronoun.**

God willing, we will surely achieve our aim. The teacher being absent the boys were noisy.

(X) The Gerund:

The gerund is a verbal noun.
I like singing.
Walking is a good exercise.

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## VERB Forms

In the English language, verbs are used to represent the action done by the subject in a sentence or a context. There are five main verb forms in English. Let us look at each one of them in detail.

## What Is a Verb Form?

A verb form is a way in which a verb is shaped or modified in order to suit the context that speaks about an action that is performed at a specific time. The five verb forms in English are root verb, third person singular present form of verb, present participle, simple past and past participle.

## Root Verb with Examples

The root verb is the verb in its original form, without any inflexion or change. The root form of the verb is used as the base form to create the other forms of the verb. Keep in mind that this is not the case with all verbs. The root form of the verb is modified when conjugated to represent other forms of the verb only for regular verbs. Irregular verbs have unique ways in which they are conjugated, and not all remain the same.

Root verbs are most often used to indicate the simple present tense. Let us take a look at the following examples of how the root verb is used in sentences.

## Examples of Root Verbs:

- I **love** watching movies with my friends. (Root verb – love)
- I **finish** my homework before 6 p.m. everyday. (Root verb – finish)
- You **play** really well. (Root verb – play)
- You **are** beautiful. (Root verb – be)

In the above examples, the verbs ‘love’, ‘finish’, ‘play’ and ‘are’ are used in their original form, and so they are called root verbs.

## Third Person Singular Present Form with Examples

The third person singular form of the verb is used to represent the simple present tense. As far as regular verbs are concerned, the third person singular form is indicated by the addition of an ‘s’ or ‘es’ to the end of the root verb.

## Examples of Third Person Singular Present Form:

- Tom **likes** having cereal for breakfast.

Root verb – like, Third person singular form – likes

- Sheela **teaches** English for sixth grade students.

Root verb – teach, Third person singular form – teaches

- My father **reads** the newspaper everyday.

Root verb – read, Third person singular form – reads

- The Sun **rises** in the east and **sets** in the west.

Root verb – rise, set; Third person singular form – rises, sets

## Present Participle Form of the Verb with Examples

The present participle form of the verb is formed by adding an 'ing' to the base form/root verb. In some cases, when the word is a monosyllabic word that ends with a vowel followed by a consonant, the last consonant is doubled, and then the 'ing' is added. For verbs ending with an 'e', the 'e' is removed, and the 'ing' is added in most cases. However, there are a few verbs that retain the 'e' in the base form when converted to the present participle form of the verb.

This form of the verb is used in the continuous/progressive tenses to indicate that the action is still going on. It is also used to convert verbs into nouns that refer to an action.

### Examples of Present Participle Form:

- Words that have double consonants
    - Run – Running
    - Swim – Swimming
    - Forget – Forgetting
    - Sit – Sitting
    - Cut – Cutting

Examples of regular verbs converted to the present participle form

- Cry – crying
- Try – Trying
- Read – Reading
- Write – Writing ('e' is removed)
- Age – Ageing ('e' is retained)

## Simple Past Form of the Verb with Examples

The simple past form of the verb is used to denote an action that took place in the past. It is usually formed by adding an 'ed' or 'd' (for words ending in 'e') to the end of the root verb. However, there are irregular verbs that do not follow the general rule. Let us look at a few examples of the simple past form of the verb.

Examples of Simple Past Form:

- Regular verbs in the simple past form
    - Cheat – Cheated
    - Dodge – Dodged

- Jump – Jumped
- Skip – Skipped
- Iron – Ironed

Verbs that take the same form as the root verb in the simple past form of the verb

- Read – Read
- Cut – Cut
- Put – Put
- Let – Let
- Hit – Hit
- Hurt – Hurt

Irregular verb forms

- Run – Ran
- Sit – Sat
- Sing – Sang
- Throw – Threw
- Fly – Flew
- Bring – Brought
- Buy – Bought
- Think – Though
- Ring – Rang
- Find – Found
- Lose – Lost
- Meet – Met

## Past Participle Form of the Verb with Examples

The past participle form of the verb is used to indicate the perfect tense. For regular verbs, the simple past form and the past participle form of the verb remain the same, whereas there are irregular verbs that take a different spelling when used as a past participle. Let us look at a few examples to understand better.

34. We ourselves have to solve the problem.
35. I myself saw him do it.

## IV. Demonstrative Pronouns

Study the following sentences and see how the pronouns are used and what function they perform.

*(1) This is my house.*
*(2) These are our books.*
*(3) That is my pen.*
*(4) Those are my pens.*
*(5) Such was the situation.*
*(6) It is a bus.*
Mote: In these sentences, the pronouns this, that, these, those, such, and it are used to show or point objects. Demonstrate means show or point out. Hence, they are called Demonstrative pronouns.
Note:
Demonstrative Pronouns can be used as demonstrative Adjectives as illustrated in the following sentences.
Note:
*(1) This pen is costly.*
*(2) That house in new.*
*(3) These books are interesting.*
*(4) Those animals are wild.*
*(5) Such men should not be trusted.*
Note: In these sentences this, that, these, those, and such qualify nouns. Hence they function like adjectives.

**EXERCISE 6**
Say whether the italicised words are Demonstrative Pronouns or Demonstrative Adjectives.
*1. That book is costly.*
*2. The teacher likes those boys. 3. Those are our new actors.*
*4. Those men are rich. 5. Those stories are quite interesting.*
*6. This is the truth. 7. That is my book.*
*8. Those are costly pearls. 9. I like those men who speak the truth.*
*10. That is the whole story*

## V. Indefinite Pronouns

Study the following sentences and find out the function of each italicized pronouns:
*(1) One must do one's duty.*
*(2) Some are born great.*
*(3) None but the brave deserves the fair.*

*(4) Anyone can see that it is not true.*
*(5) They say that science has brought us comfort as well as anxiety.*

*The italicised pronouns are indefinite in their reference. So, they are called Indefinite Pronouns.*

### *VI. Distributive Pronouns*

**Examine the following sentences and see what function the italicised pronouns perform in the sentences.**

**Each** of the students was given a book. Elther of the roads leads to the market.
Neither of the boys was present.
He gave the boys ten rupees each.

Note: 1. The italicised pronouns are used to indicate the sense of distribution. So they are called distributive pronouns.

2. Either and neither should be used only as singulars followed by singular verbs.

3. Normally each other should be used while speaking of two persons.

4 Even while referring to a large number of people, each other may be used if the sense is mutual.

5 Each, either, neither and such can be used as distributive adjectives.

Each boy got a gift. Neither boy was present.
Either road leads to Delhi. Such men are dangerous.

### *VII. Interrogative Pronouns*

Study the following sentences and see what function the italicised pronouns perform in the sentences.

Who is he?
What do you want?
Which is your pen?
Whom do you want to see ?
Whose pen is this?

The italicised pronouns function as questioning words; there- fore, they are called Interrogative Pronouns.

Note: 1. Who is in the nominative case. Whom is in the objective case.
Whose is in the possessive case.
Who are you?
Whose is this house?
Whom did you meet ?

2. What may be used as the nominative as well as the objective case.

What is he ? (nominative case) What do you want? (Objective case)

3. Which may be used as the nominative as well as the objective case,
Which is it? (Nominative case)
Which do you like ? (Objective case)
4. Who should be used for persons only.
Which and what can be used for both persons and things
but What when used for persons is used with reference to a Profession.
What is your father? Answer: He is a doctor.
5. Which, what and whose become interrogative adjectives when they qualify an immediately following noun.
Which book do you like? What book are you reading 7
Whose pen is it?
6. Whichever, whoever and whatever are called Compound Interrogative Pronouns and they are used to emphasize an idea.

## *EXERCISE 7*

*Fill in suitable interrogative pronouns and complete the sentences:*

5. ___ ___did you meet there ? ?
2. ___ ___is coming to meet you
3. ___ ____do you want ?
4. ___ ___pen is this ? do you like ? wants to meet me must come to-morrow 7
5. ___ ___-you like?
6. ___ ___do you cannot please him
7. ___ ___you do. You cannot please him?
8.___ ___is sitting there ? wrote Paradise Lost?
9.___ ___wrote Paradise Lost?
10.___ ___ do you prefer?
11.___ ___has taken my book ?

### *VIII. The Relative Pronouns*

A relative pronoun relates to or refers to an earlier noun or pronoun.. Moreover, it functions as a conjunction combining two sentences, as:
The teacher likes Ram Ram is an intelligent boy. Instead of using the noun, Ram again we use a relative pronoun.
The teacher likes Ram who is an intelligent boy. In this sentence Who is the relative pronoun Ram is its antecedent. The antecedent is the noun or the pronoun for which the relative pronoun refers.

***Study the following:***

This is the house. It was built by my father.

This is the house which my father built.
She is the girl. She secured the first rank,
She is the girl who secured the first rank.
She lost the book. I had given it to her.
She lost the book which I had given to ber.
He killed the dog. It was mad.
He killed the dog which was mad.
I know the woman. She helped you.
I know the woman who helped you.
This is the doctor. He cured me of malaria.
This is the doctor who cured me of malaria
We saw the dog. It bit Hari.
We saw the dog which bit Hari.
She bought a house. It was new.
She bought a house which was new.
My brother lives in Bombay. He is an engineer.
My brother, who lives in Bombay, is an engineer.
Bring me the book. It is on the shelf.
Bring me the book which is on the shelf.

***Some principles relating to the usage of the relative pronouns***

1. The relative pronoun must generally be placed immediately after its antecedent. Read the following:

Rama was the son of Dasaratha, He killed Ravana.

Rama was the son of Dasaratha who killed Ravana.

(This sentence means that Dasaratha killed Ravana. This is wrong)

Hence, the right way to form the sentence is as follows:

Rama, who killed Ravana, was the son of Dasaratha. In this sentence, Who refers to Rama.

2. The relative pronoun that' may be used either for persons, things, animals or places, e.g.

(a) The girl that runs fastest will get the prize.

(b) I killed the dog that was mad.

3. Which must be used only for animals or things.

(a) The dog which bit me was not mad.

It is wrong to say. The man which is standing there is my brother

The correct form is as follows.

The man who is standing there is my brother.

4. Who is nominative.

Whore is possessive.

Whom is accusative.

(a) He is the man who killed the tiger. (nominative)

(b) He is the teacher whom every student likes. (accusative)

(c) The man whose character is lost, is totally lost. (possessive)

5. The Relative Pronoun which may refer to a sentence.
They say he drinks, which is false.

6. The relative pronoun that may refer to a singular or a plural noun.
The boy that killed the dog is my brother.
The boys that teased the dog are mischievous.

7. The relative pronoun who and which are definitive and 'that' is selective.
My father who is an Engineer lives abroad. (correct form)
My father that is an Engineer lives abroad. (incorrect form)

8. The relative pronoun 'thar' is used for any gender or case.
9. That' is used with reference to all, some, any, none, nothing and only.
This is the same book that I had lost.
It is only sensible people thar avoid bad habits.
All that glitters is not gold.

10. The relative pronoun 'what' refers only to things.
Its antecedent 'that is understood not written.
Listen to what I say.
What is done cannot be undone. I told him what I knew.

11. The relative pronoun 'as is used with such and some- times with the word 'same'. Such boys as have not paid the fees, will not be admitted.
It is difficult to defeat such a hero as he.
My problem is the same as yours

12. Sometimes, the relative pronoun is dropped but is understood. The tiger I saw was a wild one. I lost the book you gave me.
13. Sometimes the antecedent of a relative proneun is dropped.
Who loves best prays best. (He who loves best prays best)

14. Whoever, Whichever, Whatever, are compound relative pronouns. They are used without antecedents.
Whatever you do is right. Take whichever you like.
Whoever works hard succeeds in life.

## EXERCISE 8

Find out the relative pronouns in the following sentences and mention the case and antecedent of each.

1. He prayeth best who loveth oest.
2. There was no one who knew the truth.
3. The man who killed the dog was mad.
4. Blessed is he who enlarges God.
5. Rleased it he who is merciful,
6. They also serve who stand and wait.
7. I know what you are saying.
8. Let him who knows the answer give it.
19. We respect those who respect the law,
10. He who is honest is liked by all.
11. The poet who composed this poem was blind.
12. Shakespeare, who wrote Hamlet, lived in the Elizabethan Age
13. Mahatma Gandhi who fought for our freedom was a great leader.
14. Mr. Nehru, who was the Prime Minister of India, wrote some books like The Discovery of India.
15. The girl, who is standing there, is my sister,
16. Blessed is everyone who fears the Lord.
17. This is the house that my father built.
18. God helps those that help themselves.
19. He who is wise is always successful,
20. This is the University that he works at
21. He admires Mr. Brown which surprises me,
22. Only such students as are intelligent secure high marks,
23. The man whom we met on the way was selling kites,
24. The man who is timid fails in his life.
25. Aziz liked Fielding who was a Principal.
26. This is the same book as you suggested,
27. The people who were wounded were taken to a hospital,
28. This is the book which you gave me yesterday.
29. He took no notice of what I said.
30. The student who absents himself from the class will be punished.
31. They that touch pitch will be defield,
32. The gentleman who called yesterday, was a stranger.
33. Tell me what you know about it,
34. The song that she sang was sweet.
35. The things which I have seen, I now can see no more,
36. Our souls have sight of that immortal sea which brought us here.
37. It is the loud laugh that speaks a happy mind.
38. He gave to Misery all that he had.

39. The time that is lost, is lost forever.
40. I viewed the ocean which was green.

**EXERCISE 9**

## Insert suitable relative pronouns :

1 I know_____you mean
2. All_____glitters is not gold.
3. She is the girl_____has secured the highest mark.
4. You speak a language_____I do not understand.
5. There is no art_____can find the construction of the mind,
6 . This is the man_____I trust.
7. Those _____are honest are liked by all.
8. This is the snake_____bit the man.
9. There is divinity_____shapes our ends.
10. _____Suffers most, suffers in the mind.
11. I hate the man_____pretends to be what he is not,
12. _____you do, you do well. .
13. No one can lose,--he never had.
14. This is -I meant,
15. She recognised the boy_____had stolen her purse,
16. The is the book_____I like most.
17. The accident _____happened yesterday is a serious one.
18. Those _____are poor will be given some help.
19. You have betrayed the trust_____I reposed in you.
20. Bring me the book_____is on the table.
21. I know the ma_____killed the dog.
22. The boy_____is honest, is liked by all,
23. She found the book_____she had lost,
24. The girl_____is standing there, is my sister.
25. He is the man_____brother is a doctor.
26. The teacher praised the boy_____answers were correct.
27. She filled the jug_____ was empty
28. Those- have not brought their hall_____tickets may leave the
29. The boy killed the dog_____was mad.
30. Blessed are those_____ are merciful.

**EXERCISE 10**

**Combine the following pairs of sentences by using appropriate Relative Pronouns.**

1. She wrote a poem. The poem was excellent,
2. She lost the book. The book was new.
3. I know the boy. He killed the dog
4. Sae fell into the well. The well was deep.
5. This is the boy. His pen has been lost.
6. He is noble He is liked by all

7. You want to say something. I know it.
8. She saw a cobra It was long
9. I punished the bay. He had broken the glass.
10. She lives in a place. The place is calm,
11, They went to a hotel. It was nearby.

**(b) Examine the way in which the adjective are used in the foliowing sentences:-**

1. The well is deep. 2. She is intelligent.
3. The poem is long
4. The houses are new.
5. The argument is logical.
6. The train is late.
7. The market is crowded.
8. The rich are not always happy.
9. The water is fresh
10. The sky is blue.

**Note: In these sentences the Adjectives are used predicatively since they form a part of the predicate.**

**III. Kinds of Adjectives;**

**(b) Adjectives of quality**

Study the following sentence and see how the adjectives function.
1. John is a lazy boy.
2. Mary is an Intelligent girl.
3. The sky is blue.
4. God is great.
5. Shivaji was a great hero.
6. We have bought a new house.
7. Beware of the anger of a patient man.
8. Mahatma Gandhi was a great leader.
9. Kalidasa was a great poet.
10. She fell into a deep well.

The italicised words are adjectives. They show quality: So, they are called adjectives of quality.

**(b) Adjectives of Quantity**

**Examine the following sentences and see how the adjectives function.**
1. There is a little milk in the cup.
2. I have enough food
3. I have not eaten much food.
4. He knows litle Greek and less Latin.
5. There is some milk in the jug.
6. A little tact would have helped you out of the situation.

**Note**: The italicised words are adjectives. They show quantity; hence, they are called adjectives of quantity.

**(c) Adjectives of Number**

**Examine the following sentences and see how adjectives are**
Used:-

1. I bought ten books.
2. Some people are born great,
3. Sita secured the first rank in the examination.
4. Many guests attended the function.
5. All fruits are not sweet.
6. Only twenty boys attended the test.
7. Few men are as great as Mahatma Gandhi.
8. There were only a Fee coins in my purse.

**Note:** The italicised words in the sentences are adjectives. show numbers; so they are called adjectives of number.

The Adjectives of number are of two kinds; namely,

1. The Definite Numeral Adjectives.
2. The Indefinite Numeral Adjectives.

**Note:** 1. Ten, Hundred, etc are Definite Numeral Adjectives
2. Some, Many. Several, Few. A few, etc. are Indefinite Numerals.

**EXERCISE 11**

Find out the Adjectives in the following sentences and say whether they are Definite Numerals or Indefinite Numerals.

1. Joan fought many battles,
2. Several members, criticised the proposal.
3. Some men achieve greatness, 4 Are there any book in the bag ?
5. She bought twenty apples.
6. He lost many chances in life.
7. Fifty miles is a long distance
8. I bought the pen for ten rupees.
9. The few books I have are old.
10. Few emperors were as great as Ashoka
11 There are three rooms in the house.
12. All men are mortal.
13. Most students answered the question correctly.
14. I will come back within five minutes.
15. There are four hills in this area.

The Definite Numeral Adjectives are of two kinds. Namely

**(1) Cordinals (2) Ordinals**.

**Cordinals** show fundamental numbers. **Ordinals** show an order

of sequence.

One, Two, Three, Four, Fiv, Six, Ten, Hundred etc., are Cordinals.

First, Second, Third, Fourth, Fifth, Tenth, Hundredth etc. are Ordinals

## (d) Distributive Adjectives

Examine the following sentences and see how the adjectives are used in them

1. Each student was given a reward
2. Every city has industries
3. Every student answered the questions correctly
4 Either road leads to Delhi.
5. Neither book is useful.

**Note:** In these sentences, the adjectives show distribution, so they are called distributive adjectives.

### (e) Demonstrative Adjectives

Examine the following sentences and see how the adjectives are used in them

1. This house is large
2. That house is small.
3. These houses are small
4 Those boys are lazy.

**Note:** In these sentences, the italicised words are adjectives. They . So, they are called serve the functions of demonstration Demonstrative Adjectives.

### (f) Interrogative Adjectives

Examine the following sentences and see how the adjectives are used:

1. Which pen did you lose?
2. Whose box are you carrying ?
3. What work do you like to do?

**Note:** The italicised words are adjectives they are used to frame questions. So, they are called Interrogative adjectives.

### (g) Emphatic Adjectives

Examine the following sentences and see how the adjectives are used:

1. I know it from my own experience.

6. This is the very book for which I was searching.

Note: The adjectives own and very are used to emphasise some ideas. So, they are called Emphatic Adjectives.

**(h) Exclamatory Adjectives**

**Examine the following adjectives and see how the adjectives are used:**

1. What Nonsense!
2. What a silly thing to do!

Note: In these sentences, the adjective is used for exclamation so it is called the Exclamatory Adjective.

**IV. Study the following lists:**

List No. 1-Adjectival Forms of some Nouns :

| **Noun** | **Adjectival Form** |
|---|---|
| Hand | Handy, Manual |
| Ear | Aural |
| Year | yearly, anually |
| Month | Monthly |
| Office | Official |
| Law | Lawful or Legal |
| Vehicle | Vehicular |
| Hope | Hopeful |
| Head | Capital |
| Wind | vindy |
| Sun | Sunny, Solar |
| Moon | Lunar |
| Dog | Canine |
| Cow | Bovine |
| Beauty | Beautiful |
| Fun | Funny |
| Wealth | Wealthy |
| Health | Healthy |
| Nose | Nasal |
| Face | Facial |
| Surface | Superficial |
| Power | Powerful |
| Money | Monetary |
| Heart | Hearty, Cordial |
| Muscle | Muscular |

| | |
|---|---|
| Anger | Angry |
| Thirst | Thirsty |
| Pride | Proud |
| Slave | Slavish |
| Nature | natural |
| Father | Paternal |
| Mother | Maternal |
| Son | Filial |
| Sorrow | Sorrowful |
| Victory | Victorious |
| Joy | Joyous |
| | |
| Vigour | Vigorous |
| Humour | Humorous |
| Art | Artistic |
| Memory | Memorable |
| Fire | Fiery |
| Star | Stellar or Stairy |

(b) Child like innocent like a child. He is childlike in his simplicity.

Contagions: Infectious

(a) Contagious: spreading by contact. Cholera is a contagious disease

(b) Infectious: spreading disease. Malaria is an infectious disease.

Confer: Bestow Endow

(a) Confer to give at an award. The honorary degree was conferred upon him.

(b) Bestow give as a gift. God has bestowed sound health upon him.

(c) Endow: to settle upon. He endowed his property upon his adopted son.

Common: Ordinary

(a) Common: found everywhere. Slums are common in industrial areas
(b) (b) Ordinary: not extraordinary. He is a man of ordinary intelligence.
(c) Custom: Habit

(a) Custom a practice. This custom prevails among the Hindus.

(b) Habit: an acquired action. Smoking is a bad habit.

Carcass: Corpse

(a) Carcass: dead body net of a human being. The carcass of the dead dog lay rotting.

(b) Corpse dead body of a human being. The battle-field was covered with the corpses of soldiers.

Crime: Sin

(a) Crime: an illegal action. Crimes are punishable.

(b) Sin: a moral transgression. It is a sin to disrespect our parents.

Chronic: Chronological

(a) Chronic: lasting. He is suffering from chronic bronchitis.

(b) Chronological historical. The story is narrated in a chronological manner.

Continuous Continual

(a) Continuous: without break. It rained continuously for an hour.

(b) Continual with breaks. We get continual rains during August,

Capture: Captivate: Fascinate

(a) Capture means occupy by force Sri Krishanadevaraya captured many kingdoms

(b) Captivate means win over, India captivated the western people.

(c) Fascinate means attractive. It was a fascinating sight.

Compile: Collect

(a) Compile means arranging in a certain order. Dr. Johnson compiled the first dictionary

(b) Collect means gathering together I have collected a large number of books

Confer: Consult

(a) Confer means talk to. The members conferred with one another at the conference

(b) Consult means seeking someone's opinion. The farmer consulted a lawyer regarding his landed property.

Compel: Impel

(a) Compel force Hitler compelled people to obey him.

(b) Impel inspire. Gandhiji impelled people to speak the truth.

Complaisance: Complacence

(a) Complaisance means obliging civility He treated his guests with complaisance.

(b) Complacence: self satisfied. If we are complacent we cannot make any progress.

Contain: Comprise: Consist

(a) Contain to have within. This bottle contains two litres of milk.

(b) Comprise means include. The book comprises 200 pages.

(c) Consist means to include. This book consists of 200 pages.

Choose Select: Elect

(a) Choose pick out in preference to another. We should choose the right books to read.

(b) Select: pick out from a member in preference He has been selected for the post.

(c) Elect Choose by voting They elected him President of the Association

Credulous Credible: Creditable

(a) Credulous: believing easily. Children are credulous.

(b) Credible: believable. His statement is credible.

(c) Creditable: deserving credit. His achievement is creditable.

Concur: Agree: Concede

(a) Concur: give consent to a decision. I concur with you on that point.

(b) Agree: to give consent to. I agree to your suggestion.

(c) Concede: agree and grant. The management conceded the demands of the workers.

Client: Customer: Patient

(a) Client: one who goes to a lawyer for help. The lawyer argued for his client.

(b) Customer: one who buys in a shop etc. Our shop has a number of customers

(c) Patient: one who seeks the hairs of the doctor. The doctor is attending in the patient.

Clever: Wise: Intelligent: Witty

(a) Clever: skilful. He is a clever workman

(b) Wise: having sense and discrimination. Wise men control their bad habits

(c) Winy: being clever in speech. He is a witty conversationalist

(d) Intelligent possessing intellectual power. Intelligent students secure ranks.

Committee: Council: Association

a) Committee: a portion selected from a more numerous body to which some special business is committed. A Committee has been appointed to look into the matter

(b) Council: an assembly for deliberation advice of administration. The Council is in charge of admissions

(c) Association a society of persons to promote some object. I am a member of the literary association.

Center: Middle

a) Center is the American spelling of centre. A circle has a center

(b) Middle the mid-point of anything. He was standing the middle of the road.

Calender: Calendar

(a) Calender: a machine with bowls or rollers for finishing cloth, papers, etc We have a calender press.

(b) Calendar: a table of days, months etc. The calendar is hung to the wall.

Compliment: Complement

(a) Compliment regards. Please convey my compliments to your brother,

(b) Complement that which completes. The two eyes complement each other.

Canvass : Canvas

(a) Canvass: propagate. He is canvassing for his candidate.

(b) Canvas: coarse cloth. These are canvas shoes.

Cordial: Cardiac Cardinal

(a) Cordial: hearty. We gave him a cordial welcome.

(b) Cardiac relating to heart This is a cardiac disease.

(c) Cardinal: very important. These are the cardinal principles of morality

Cure Heal

(a) Cure curing a disease The doctor cured me of malaria

(b) (b) Heal: curing of a wound The wound has completely healed.

Catastrophe: Calamity: Tragedy

(a) Catastrophe a final calamity the catastrophe in the play is truly tragic

(b) Calamity: an unhappy occurrence. He faced the calamity with equanimity.

(c) Tragedy: a painful event. The hero met with a tragedy.

Cease: Stop

(a) Cease: end The rain has ceased.

(b) Step: to ball or pause She stopped working.

Cavity: Care: Den

(a) Cavity: a hollow place. There are cavities in his teeth.

(b) Cave: a hollow place in a rock. The Sanyasi lived in a cave.

(c) Den: a hollow fair of a wild beast. The lion lived in a den.

Cauficus: Careful

(a) Cautious: heedful. We should be cautious when we are walking through a forest.

(b) Careful caring for something We should be careful in our dealings with dishonest people.

Courteous: Curt: Kind

(a) Courteous considerate or polite in behaviour. We should be courteous to our guests.

(b) Curt discourteously brief. She gave curt replies to the questions because she did not like to answer them.

(c) Kind large-hearted we should be kind to animals.

Chord Cord

(a) Chord a string. The musical instrument has four chords

(b) Cord a piece of string. We tied the parcel with a cord.

Civic: Civil

(a) Civic means relating to a city or a citizen. Cities will be clean if people develop civic sense.

(b) Civil means gentle-polite. He is known for his civil behaviour.

Calm: Silent

(a) Calm means mentally undisturbed. Sri Rama remained calm even in the greatest adversities.

(b) Silent means not noisy. The class is silent because all the students are sleepy.

Cut Split: Slice

(a) Cut means to sever. The boy cut the sugar-cane into four pieces.

(b) Split means cut vertically. The poet, Frost was one day splitting fire wood.

c) Slice means making into thin vertical pieces. He sliced the bread

Comfort: Convenience

(a) Comfort refers to physical satisfaction. All comforts were provided to the guests.

(b) Convenience refers to advantages or promoting. case like having lavatory etc. I have chosen this house because of the conveniences available.

Cloths: Clothes

(a) Cloths unprepared or unstitched cloth. The merchant deals in all varieties of cloths.

(b) Clothes garments. She always wears clean clothes.

Coast: Beach: Shore

(a) Coast: land adjoining the sea. India has a long coastal area.

(b) Beach: a shore of a sea or of a lake, sandy or pebbly as a pleasure resort The Juhu beach is famous in Bombay.

(c) Shore: land bordering the sea where people can land from the sea. Our ship reached the shore in time.

Code: Law: Rule

(a) Code: collection of Laws, Rules, or Regulations. Hinduism prescribes a code of ethics.

(b) Law: a rule established by authority We should obey the laws of our nations.

(c) Rule: principles or standards. These rules have been laid down by the management.

Coign: Colus

(a) Coign:  an advantageous corner Birds have built nests in the coigns of the temple

(b) Coins: currency. This is a rupee coin.

Colleague: Collaborator

(a) Colleague: fellow worker. He is a colleague of mine in the college

(b) Collaborator: one who works with an author. He was my collaborator writing this book.

Combine: Unite

(a) Combine: join together. Oxygen and Hydrogen combine to form water

(b) Unite: Come together for a common purpose All the workers mites to demand higher wages

Commend: Recommend

(a) Commend praise The teacher commended my knowledge of English

(b) Recommend to certify as capable of He recommended me for the post

Contemptuous: Contemptible

(a) Contemptuous deep dislike. We should not be contemptuous toward our inferiors

(b) Contemptible deserving contempt. He is a contemptible fellow

Extend: Prolong

(a) Extend reach to His role extended over a vast area

(c) Prolong continue. They had a prolonged discussion.

Common: General

a) Common belonging equally to all: Such difficulties common to all poor people

(b) General of animal crest. It is a matter of general interest

Compile: Collect

(a) Compile: collect and arrange in order. I compiled a list of common words

b) Collect: gather. He has collected a number of stamps.

Comprehend: Apprehend

(a) Comprehend: understand. The students comprehend the poem.

(b) Apprehend: Catch. The police apprehend of the thief

Concentrate Meditate

(a) on to fix the mid firmly on something Students should rent on their lessons.

(a) Conclude to arrange finally. The dramatist has concluded

(b) Meditate: to play upon (Religious Contemplation) We should meditate upon God every day. Conclude End the play very well.

(b) End: to stop. Lazy ended their hostilities.

Concord: Accord

(a) Concord: harmony. There should be a concord among the member

(b) Accord: agree. The permission was accorded to him. Statement accords with my policy.

Confirm: Conform

(a) Confirm: make certain. We want to confirm the news.

(b) Conform to obey. We should conform to the prescribed rules.

Condense: Compress

(a) Condense: to make more dense. If we condense air it becomes heavier.

(b) Compress: pre toga Al cannot be compressed.

Congenial: Congenital

(a) Congenial conducting in this atmosphere is congenial to religious studies.

(b) Congenital: in born. This is a congenital defect.

Counsel: Advice

(a) Counsel: deliberation or consultation the king needed the counsel of his ministers.

(b) Advice: precepts. My father gave me some useful advice.

Conscious : Conscientious

(a) Conscious: being aware. I am conscious of my work

(b) Conscientious: due to one's conscience. He is a conscientious worker.

Constant: Constant

(a) Constant: always. This patient needs constant attention. .

(b) Consistent: agreeing. Our words by constant with our actions

Console: Condole

Console: speak words of comfort. We consoled him when he was in difficulties.

Condole: Sharing sorrow with. We condoled with her in her sorrow.

Disturb: Agitate

Disturb : unsettle. The noise disturbed the class

(b) Agitate. Worry. He was greatly agitated by the problems

Distinct: Distinctive

Distinct: clear. The object is dicimusly paresptible

(b) Distinctive characteratic. Birds have their distinctive features.

Depression : Dejection

Depression : dispirited. She was in a mood of deep depress

Dejection: down cast. He was in a mood of dejection since he did not get any job.

Divert: Deviate

Divert: chang. The direction of Wan I was listening to a song he diverted my attention by pointing to a strange insect on the well.

Deviate: stray from. We should not deviate from the paths we have chosen.

Debit : Debt

Debit entry in account as so amount owing This amount should be entered on the debit side.
Debt: loan. He has incurred heavy debts.

Decrce: Degree

Decree order. The decree passed by the court is binding on him.

(c) Degree : level. The thermometer measures the degree of temperature.

Deduce: Reduce

Diduce : inferring. This theory has baca daJund from the observed data

` Reduce: lowering. I cannot reduce the press further

Diffuse: Defuse

Diffuse: rare, scattered. The gas is diffused.

Define making it harmless. The tomb has been defused

Defer: Differ

(a) Defer: postpone. The payment was deferred.
(b) Differ: making it harm less. The bomb has been defused.

Defy: Deity

Defy: not caring for. They defied the authority of the king.

Deity: treat as god. Indians deified Mahatma Gandhi.

Delusion: Illusion

(a) Delusion deceptio He was a viction of delusion.

(b) Illusion: false idea. According to some philosophers is an illusion life

Despise: Deride Hate

(a) Despise: hate seriously. I despise lazy fellows.

(b) Deride: laugh to scorn We should not deride our culture.

(c) Hate dislike. I hate falsehood.

Decide: Determine

(a) Decide: settle We decided to go to Madras.

(b) Determine to make up one's mind. She is determined to become a musician.

Detest: Deplore

(a) Detest Deeply dislike I detest smoking.

(b) Deplore: condemn. Wordsworth deplored our indifference to nature.

Deny: Refuse

(a) Deny declare as untrue. He denied the allegation.

(b) Refuse reject. He refused the gifts give to him.

Destiny: Destination: Fate

(a) Destiny power that fore-ordains. The decrees of destiny can never be altered.

(b) Destination: place for which on is bound. Delhi is my destination.

(c) Fate: a power that predetermines events from eternity.

Thomas Hardy believed in fate.

Decease: Disease

(a) Decease: death. The decease of Mr. Nehru was a great loss to India.

b) Disease: ailment. Typhoid is a serious disease.

Deprecate: Depreciate

(a) Deprecate: condemn. We should not deprecate others.

(b) Depreciate diminish in values. H: depreciated the value of the house.

Discreet: Discrete

(a) Discreet: prudent. We should be discreet in our dealings

(b) Discrete: separate. All the particles in the liquid were discretely visible.

Distinguish: Discriminate

(a) Distinguish: tell one from the other. Death does not distinguish between the rich and the poor.

Evolution Revolution

(a) Evolution 1 slow change Man has emerged into existence through evolution.

(b) Revolution t sudden change for better. Writers can bring about a revolution in the world.

Funeral Funereal

(a) Funeral burial or cremation. Many attended the leader's funeral.

(b) Funereal: dismal. The atmosphere at the site of the calamity was funereal.

Excess : Access
(a) Excess :more than necessary .Excess of wealth makes a arrogant.
(b) Access: approach. Only members have access to the library.

Excite: Incite
(a) Excite: rouse up. It was an exciting experience.
(b) Incite: instigate Mark Antony incited the Roman mobs.
Exile: Banishment

(a) Exile: banish (it may be voluntary). The king had to live in exile.
(b) Banishment: ordering a person out of country. The banishment of Cordelia was a cruel act of Lear

Expensive: Costly
(a) Expensive: requiring a lot of expense The tour to England is expensive.
(b) Costly having high prices. This is a costly medicine.
Fact Truth
(a) Fact: thing known to have occurred, real. He mentioned the facts relating to the case.
(b) Truth: the opposite of falsehood. We should speak the truth.
Freedom Liberty
(a) Freedom: not in bondage. India got freedom on 15th August, 1947
(b) Liberty: absence of all restrains. You are at liberty to ask any question.
Faith: Believe: Trust
(a) Faith: believe implicitly. We should have faith in God.
(b) Believe: have confidence. I have no relief in his words.
(c) Trust firm belief in the honesty of. I have no trust in him because he is honest.
Vocabulary
Fatigue Boredom.
(a) Fatigue tiresomeness. Strain brings about fatigue.
(b) Boredom: lack of interest. Repetition causes boredom.
Guarantee :Guaranty: Warranty
(a) Guarantee : assurance. There is no guarantee that he will visit us.
(d) Guaranty: undertaking. We stand guaranty for its durability.
(c) Warranty: authority. We give a warranty card along with the machine.

Gang Group
(a) Gang: a collection engaged in a work. There are a gang of workers.
(b) Group a collection. I saw a group of men sitting under a tree.

Glass: Gloss
(a) Glass: a transparent substance. This is a plain glass.
(b) Gloss: shine. The gloss of his dress remained undisturbed. Glide Slide
(a) Glide: move smoothly. The snake glided into the water.
(b) Slide: slip. This door slides down.
Gravitation: Gravity
(a) Gravitation magnetic force of the earth. The earth has Gravitation
(b) Gravity seriousness. Ophelia could not understand the gravity of the situation.

Grade Rank
(a) Grade: level. She secured the 'A' grade in the examination.
(b) Rank: position or Status. She secured the first rank in the examination.

Garden: Park
(a) Garden 1 piece of ground for growing flowers, fruits, vegetables. The farmer keeps the garden clean.
(b) Park: a place with trees and plants to walkabout. There is a fine park in the town.
Ground Floor
(a) Ground prepared land. Boys are playing in the ground.
(b) Floor prepared ground. The floor of the house is red.
Hollowness: Vacuum
(a) Hollowness: with nothing inside. Hollowness an article light,

Incident Accident
(a) Incident occurrence The incident took place last month.
(b) Accident: unhappy, unexpected, incident. Accidents on roads are common now-a-days.

Industrial: Industrious

(a) Industrial: relating to industry India has made industrial progress

(b) Industrous: hard-working. Babu is an industrious student. Idle Lazy

(a) Idle: without work An idle brain is a devil's workshop
(b) Lazy: not disposed to work A lazy man will have to experience many adversities.

Idol: Image

(a) Idol: Image for worship. We have installed the idol of the god in the temple. (b) Image: picture. The poet has employed excellent images in his poem.

Illuminate: Illustrate

(a) Illuminate: brighten. The palace is illuminated during the Dussehra festival. (b) Illustrate: make clear. The teacher illustrated his statement with a concrete example,
invite: Welcome
(a) Invite request courteously. We invited all our friends to the dinner.
(b) Welcome: receiving with love. The members gave a hearty welcome to the President.
Intelligent :Intelligible

(a) Intelligent: having mental capacity Intelligent students secure high marks.
(b) Intelligible understandable. The poem is not intelligible.

Journey : Tour: Travel
(a) Journey: distance travelled in a specified time. They had a comfortable journey when they went to Bombay.
(b) Tour: journey through a country from place to place. The students went on an educational tour.

c)Travel: a long journey. We travelled together from Bangalore to Delhi.

Judicial Judicious
(a) Judicial: relating to courts etc. This is a judicial matter
(b) Judicious: fair He made a judicious distribution of his wealth among his heirs.

Lack: Want: Need
(a) Lack: wanting. We do not lack anything.
(b) Want desire. Man has many wants
(c) Need: something essential. The patient needs rest

Later: Latter

(a) Later after sometime. A lighting sol, later thunder roared

(b) Latter: second. Bombay and Delhi are large cities. The latter is the capital of the country.

Limit : Limitation

(a) Limit: extent. There is no limit to humas ambition
(b) Limitation: something lacking As a critic Mathew Arnold has many limitations.

Less: Lesser

(a) Less: smaller in quantity. He knows little Latin, less Greek
(b) Lesser: lower in rank A lesser poet then Milton could not have written 'Paradise Lost".

Lie: Falsehood

(a) Lie: untrue. We should not utter a lie.

(b) Falsehood: opposite of truth We should not speak falsehood.

Long: Lengthy

(a) Long: of a considerable length. It is a long sake.
(b) Lengthy: very long. He narrated a lengthy story.

Main: Chief

(a) Main: principal. The procession passed through the main roads of the city.
(b) Chief: important. He is the Chief Minister of the State
Marriage: Wedding
(a) Marriage: as a religious performance. Sari Rama's marriage with Sita took place at Mithila.
(b) Wedding: as a social celebration. She invited her friends to her wedding dinner.

Marvellous: Wonderful

(a) Marvellous: extraordinary. Bhima possessed marvellous strength.

Medal: Prize
(b) (a) Medal a piece of metal awarded. The scholar was given a gold medal.

(c) Wonderful: strange. Tas is a wonderful fashion. Neglect: Ignore

(a) Neglect: not caring for. We should not neglect our duties. (b) Ignore: not noticing. He ignored my presence in the hall.

Next: Nearest

(a) Next: adjacent to. There is a temple next to my house.
(b) Nearest: closest in distance. We went to the nearest rail- way station.

Necessaries: Necessities

(a) Necessaries: wants. We have got all the necessaries for the festival.
(b) Necessities: essential things. Food and water are necessities for existence.
Obedient: Faithful
(a) Obedient: to abide by. We should be obedient to our parents. (b) Faithful: having firm belief in or loyal to. I am a faithful devotee of Lord Venkateshwara. On: Upon: Over

(a) On: with reference to a resting object. The book is on the table.

(b) Upon: used when there is some movement. The tiger pounced upon the deer.

c) Over: above. The bird flew over our heads.

Possible: Probable

(a) Possible: that which can be done. It is possible to walk the distance.
(b) Probable likely. It is probable that he has gone to Bombay.

Practical: Practicable
(a) Practical relating to practice. We should have practical experience to do any job.
(b) Practicable: that which can be practised. These ideals are not practicable. Pride: Vanity

(a) Pride: a sense of self-importance. Pride goes before a bell.
(b) Vanity: love of show. Thackeray has satirised the vanities of men and women.

Principal: Principle
(a) Principal, chief. Our principal is a gentleman.
(b) Principle: a rule of conduct. He is min of principles.

Successive: Successful

(a) Successive: coming in a sequence. India faced successive invasions.

(b) Successful victorious. He was successful in completing his task.

Sustain Support

(a) Sustain: to hold up; to bear. He sustained several injuries in the accident.
(c) Support help. I have to support the members of my family.

Sympathy: Compassion

(a) Sympathy pity. I have no sympathy for lazy fellows.
(b) Compassion: sharing the sorrow of others. The Buddha preached that we should have compassion for all.
System: Method
(a) System i organisation. Our educational system is sound.
(b) Method way. There is a method in his madness.

Tenant Occupant

(a) Tenant one who has rented a house etc., The tenant has vacated the house.

(b) Occupant : one who occupies house etc., The occupant of a house knows its defects.
Term: Period

(a) Term: duration of time. The first term in our college ends in October.

(b) Period: A portion of time. We have work for 16 periods a week

Terrace: Roof

(a) Terrace concrete roof for a house. We grow plants on the terrace.

(b) Roof: top over of a building. The roof has been leaking.

Throw: Cast

(a) Throw: to hurl. He threw the ball towards me.

(b) Cast: throw away as to reject. He cast away the rubbish.

Tolerate Endure

(a) Tolerate: Bear with. I cannot tolerate your laziness.

(b) Endure: suffer. What cannot be cured must be endured.

Tradition: Custom Practice

(a) Tradition something transmitted from generation to generation. Every literature has its tradition.
(b) Custom : a practice relating to morals or religion This custom prevails among some people only
(c) Practice some action or principle continued among some people. Some of our practices are not scientific.

Transform: Change

(a) Transform: change the form of. We can transform a liquid into a gas.
(b) Change i alter. I cannot change my plan now.

Type: Kind
(a) Type: refers to structure, shape etc., I need the same type of chairs.
(b) Kind of a certain class or quality I do not like this kind of behaviour.

Until: Till

(a) Until: emphatically. upto a point of time. You should wait here until I come.
(b) Till: upto a point of time. We worked till 50 clock in the evening.

Urgency : Emergency

(a) Urgency speedy necessity Because of its urgency I am attending to this work now
(b) Emergency pressing necessity. I need help only at a time of emergency

Vanish: Disappear

(a) Vanish disappear suddenly. The vision vanished at once.

(b) Disappear: go out of appearance. The moon has disappeared behind the clouds.

Value: Worth

(a) Value: price. The market value or site in this area is high.
(b) Worth: intrinsic value. We cannot estimate easily the Ramayana

Valuation: Evaluation
(a) Valuation: valuing. The valuation of the building is mad by engineers.

(b) Evaluation: valuing answer-scripts etc.. The teacher evaluated my answers.

View: Sight

(a) View: sight seen from angle. The teacher gave a bird's eye view of the entire subject.

(b) Sight I something seen. Malnad abounds in beautiful sights.

Visit Visitation

(a) Visit I calling on. I paid a visit to my friend.

(b) Visitation 1 appearance or arrival of a high or super human being. Mariner's fit was mistaken for a divine visitation.

Vacant: Empty

(a) Vacant: without anyone inside. The house is vacant.

(b) Empty 1 without anything inside, reference to a container. The box is empty.

Wage: Salary

(a) Wage: money paid for work. He is paid a daily wage.

(b) Salary: monthly emoluments. He is getting a salary of Rs. 4,000 per month.

Warning: Caution

(a) Warning: some instruction against danger. The teacher has given me a severe warning that he would punish me, if I repeated my mistakes.

(b) Caution: care We should walk with caution while crossing a road.

Weapon: Arm: Missile

(a) Weapon: an instrument of offence. or deference Bhishma used efficacious weapons

(b) Arm: means of protection. They carried fire arms when they went into the jungles.

(c) Missile: a projectile. Missiles were thrown at the enemy army. Word: Term

(a) Word 1 a meaningful expression. Every word has some meaning.

(b) Term 1 an expression used to describe something. A lawyer should be acquainted with legal terms.

Work : Deed

(a) Work: anything done. The work of constructing a dam is taken by the engineer.

(b) Deed: action. He did a noble deed.

Wash: Clean

(a) Wash: removing dirt. She is washing clothes.

(b) Clean: making something tidy. We should clean our teeth every day.

Whole: All

(a) Whole : entire. He ate the whole quantity of food.

(b) All: including everyone or everything. All the boys were present.

Wide: Broad

(a) Wide 1 with reference to one side of square area. This room is twelve feet wide.

(b) Broad: with reference to an extent in the sense of being large. The city abounds in broad roads.

Weep: Wail

(a) Weep: cry, shed tears. The child has been weeping.

(b) Wail 1 cry with grief. She wailed over the death of her husband.

Weak: Poor

(a) Weak: not strong. He is weak in English.

(b) Poor: not possession the required level of perfection. I have a poor vocabulary.

Yard: Court

(a) Yard 1 open space. We will grow a small garden in the backyard of our house.

(b) Court open space surrounded by buildings The spectators sat around the tennis court.

Zone: Circle

(a) Zone: region. I took part in the zonal cricket match.

(b) Circle: an administrative unit. He is the head of the southern circle.

Zero: Cipher

(a) Zero: a character in numerals. Two zeroes following number one would be one hundred.
(b) (b) Cipher a non-entity. He is a cipher in his family.

# WRITTEN COMPOSITION

Comprehension means understanding. When we read a passage, we should understand it thoroughly. That means we should have the capacity to understand the words, the phrases, the idioms and the sentences in the passage and the full meaning of the passage. So, we should possess good vocabulary and the capacity to understand any passage. In schools and colleges, comprehension tests are given to students to test their power of comprehension.

In the case of comprehension test, a passage is given and beneath it some questions are given. Students have to read and understand the passage therapy and then they have to answer the questions given. Normally, the answers to the questions should not be long. They should be short, pointed and relevant. The answers should he in accordance with the requirement implied in the questions.

The following steps should be adopted while answering comprehension questions

You should read the passage carefully and with concentration and understand it as thoroughly as possible.

Alter understanding the passage fully, you must proceed to answer the questions.

The answers should not be long One or two sentences may suffice. Sometimes even phrases may be enough.

Comprehension questions are of two kinds. To some questions, we find ready answers in the passage but the answers to some questions may not be openly evident in the passage. They may be implied in the passage If so, you must understand the implied ideas and answer these questions

You should not reproduce sentence from the original passage while answering the passage. The answers must be in your own English

Take care to see that there are no spelling errors or grammar errors or any other errors in your passage. 1. Read the following passage carefully and answer the questions given below: Bodily labour is of two kinds, either that which a man submits to for his livelihood, or that which he

undergoes for his pleasure. The latter of them generally changes the name of labour for that of exercise, but differs only from ordinary labour as it rises from another motive, A country life abounds in both these kinds of labour, and for that reason gives a man a greater stock to health, and consequently a more perfect enjoyment of himself, than any other way of life. I consider the body a system of tubes and glands or to use a more rustic phrase, a bundle of pipes and strainers, fitted to one another after so wonderful a manner as to make a prettier engine for the soul to work with. This description does not only comprehend the bowels, bones, tendons, veins, nerves and arteries, but every muscle and every ligature, which is a composition of fibres, that are so many imperceptible tubes or pipes interwoven on all sides with invisible glands or strainers.

This general idea of a human body, without considering it in its niceties of anatomy, let us see how absolutely necessary labour is for the right preservation of it. There must be frequent motions and agitations to mix, digest, and separate the juices contained in it as well as to clear and cleanse that infinitude of pipes and strainers of which it is composed, and to give their solid parts a more firm and lasting tone. Labour or exercise ferments the humours. Casts hem into their proper channels, throws off redundancies, and helps nature in those secret distributions, without which the body cannot subsist in its vigour, nor the soul act with cheerfulness.

Questions:

1. What are the two kinds of bodily labour that the author speaks of?

2. When does labour become an exercise?

3. Where do both these kinds of labour abound?

4. Which way of life gives man health and enjoyment?

5. What does the author consider the body to be?

6. What is the more rustic phrase for the body?

7. What parts of the body are included in this description?

8. Why do we need exercise?

9. How do labour and exercise help the body?

10. Give a suitable title the passage.

## Answers:

1. The author speaks of two kinds of bodily labour. One helps man to earn his livelihood and the other gives him pleasure.

2. Labour becomes an exercise when it brings pleasure. It differs from the other kind of labour because it is carried out for pleasure.

3. These two kinds of labour, according to the author, abound in country life,

4. The country life gives man health and consequently a more perfect enjoyment of himself than the other ways of life.

5. The author considers the body to be a system of tubes and glands

6. The more rustic phrase for the body is that it is a bundle of pipes and strainers, adjusted to one another in such a wonderful manner that the body is an engine for the soul to work with.

7. This description of the body includes not only the bowels, bones, tendons, veins, nerves and arteries but muscle, ligatures, which are made up of fibres and which are like invisible tubes interwoven with invisible glands.

8. We need exercise so that it might help the body to mix, digest and separate the juices found in it and to clear and cleanse the innumerable pipes of which it is made and to give their solid parts firmness.

9. Labour and exercise help the body and the various organs to ferment the humours, to assimilate them, to throw off useless matter and in the street distributions without which the body cannot remain strong.

10. A suitable title to the passage "The importance of physical

Exercise".

(2) Passage

Once a great Chinese traveller by name Huentsang came to India. He studied Buddhism for sometime in the Nalanda Univer- sity; and then, while returning to his country he carried with him some manuscript grant has relating to Buddhism. He was sailing on the Bay of Bengal on his way to China. In order to bid farewell to him, two Buddhist scholars by name Gnangupta and Tyagaraja were accompanying him on board the ship. The ship was sailing forth. Unexpectedly, dark clouds appeared in the sky. All the members on board the ship feared danger to their lives because terrific tempests and cyclonic winds began to blow. The captain of the ship gave orders to the crew that if anyone had with him any heavy article, it should be thrown into the sea Huentsang had with him those manuscript Buddhist grant has. He got ready to throw them into the sea. At that time, Gnangupta and Tyagaraja said to him, "These works are a treasure-house of knowledge. Please do not cast them into the sea. Instead of that we two will jump into the sea. Man's life is transitory and perishable. Knowledge is permanent and imperishable. Please do not throw away these extra- ordinary grant has. From these granthas thousands of people will obtain

light which will lead them on the path of Nirvan (salvation) and they will get supreme bliss in consequence". Having said this, those two great Indian scholars jumped into the tempestuous sea.

Questions:

1. Who was Huentsang?

2. What did he study at Nalanda University?

3. What did he take with him when he returned to his country?

4. Who were accompanying him to bid him farewell to him?

5. Why did the members on board the ship fear danger to their lives?

6. What did the captain tell the crew to do?

7. What did Huentsang have with him?

8. What did he decide to do?

9. Why did the two scholars jump into the sea ? 10. Suggest a suitable title to the passage.

Answers:

1. Huentsang was a Chinese traveller.

2. He studied Buddhism at Nalanda University.

3. When he returned home, he took with him some manuscript granthas relating to Buddhism.

4. Two Buddhism scholars by name Gnangupta and Tyagaraja accompanied him to bid farewell.

5. The members of the crew began to fear danger to their lives because suddenly dark clouds appeared; and tempests and cyclonic winds began to below.

6. The captain told the members of the crew that if anyone had a beavy article with him, he should throw it into the sea.

7. Huentsang had with him those manuscripts of Buddhist granthas

8. Huentsang wanted to throw them away into the sea.

9. They jumped into the sea to save the Buddhist granthas.

10. A suitable title to the passage is "An Exemplary Sacrifice".

(3) Passage

Two men I honour and no third First, the toil-worn crafts-man that with carth-made implements laboriously conquers the earth and makes her man's Venerable to me is the hard hand; crooked, coarse; wherein notwithstanding lies a cunning virtue indefeasibly royal as of the sceptre of this planet. Venerable too is the ragged face, all weather-tanned, besoiled, with its rude intelligence; for it is the face of man living manlike. Thou the more venerable for thy rudeness, and even because we must pity as well as love thee. Hardly entreated brother, for us was thy back so bent, for us were thy straight limbs and fingers so departed; thou were our conscript on whom the lot fell; and fighting our battles-wert so married, For Comprehension in thee too lay a good-created form; but it was not to be unfolded; encrusted must it stand with the thick adhesions and defacements of labour; and thy body like thy soul was not to know freedom, yes toil on; toil on, thou art in the duty, be he of it who may; thou toilest for the altogether indispensable, for daily bread.

A second man I honour; and still more highly; him who is seen toilest for the spiritually indispensable; not daily bread; but the bread of life, is not he too in his duty; endeavouring towards inward harmony; renealing this by act or by word through all his outward endeavours be they high or low? Highest of all when his out ward and his inward endeavour are one; when we can name him artist; not earthly craftsman only but inspired thinker who with heaven-made implement conquers heaven for us! If the poor and humble toil that we have food, must not the high and glorious toil for him in return, that he have light, have guidance, freedom and immortality ? These that in all their degrees, I honour; all else is chaff and dust; let the wind blow whither it listeth.

Questions:

1. Who are the two men that the author honours most?

2. What kind of implements are used by them?

3. What are the conquests made by them?

4. What is the work done by the first kind of worker?

5. What is the work done by the second kind of worker?

6. How does he treat other kinds of workers?

7 To what does the author compare the cunning virtue of the craftsman?

8. Of the two kinds of workers, whom does the author honour more?

9. When is a worker an artist?

10. Suggest a suitable title to the passage.

Answers:

1. The author honours two men and no third. They are (1) The toil-worm craftsman toiling for our daily bread; and (2) he who toils for the bread of life i.e. spiritual food.

2. The first one uses an earth-made implement and the second one uses heaven-made implements,

3. The first one conquers the earth and makes her man's. The second one conquers heaven for human beings.

4. He toils hard to earn the altogether indispensable daily bread.

5. He toils to bring us light, guidance, freedom and immortality.

6. The author calls them chaff and dust which the winds might blow where they like,

7. The author compares the cunning virtue of the crafuman to the sceptre of this plants. & The author honours the second kind of worker more than the first.

9. A worker is an artist when he endeavours to achieve inward harmony; and when his outward and inward endeavours are one.

10. A suitable title to the passage is "Two great workers".

(1) Passage

UNSOLVED EXERCISES

Miss Sharp's father was an artist, and in that quality had given lessons of drawing at Min Pinkerton's school. He was a clever man, a pleasant companion; a caraless Student with a great propensity for running into debt, and a partiality for the tavern. When he was drunk, he used to beat his wife and daughter and the next morning, with a headache, he would rail at the ward for us neglect of his genius, and abuse, with a good deal of cleverness and some- times with perfect reason, the fools his brother painters As it was with the utmost difficulty that he could gap bum all, and as he owed money for a mile round Soho, where he lead, he thought to better his circumstances by marrying a young woman of the French nation. Who was by profession an opera-girl The humble calling of her female parent Mess Sharp never alluded to, but used to state subsequently that the Entrechats were a noble family of Gascony, and took great pride in her descent from them. And curious it is that as she advanced in life, this young lady's ancestors increased in rank and splendour.

Rebecca's mother had some education somewhere and her daughter spoke French with purity and a Parisian accent. It was in those days rather a rare accomplishment, and led to her engagement with the orthodox Miss Pinkerton. For her mother being dead, her father finding himself not

likely to recover, after his third attack of delirium tremens, wrote a manly and pathetic letter to Miss Pinkerton, recommending the orphan child to her protection, and so descended to the grave, after two bailiffs had quarrelled over his corpse. Rebecca was seventeen when she comes to Chiswick, and was bound over as an articled pupil; her duties bring to talk French, as we have seen, and her privileges to live cost from, and, with a few guineas a year, to gather scraps of knowledge from the professions who attended the school.

Questions:

1. What was Miss Sharp's father?

2. What kind of man was he?

3. How did he treat his wife and daughter?

4. What was the humble calling of her mother ?

5. What led to Miss Sarp being accepted as an arucled pupil at Miss Pinkerton's?

6. What were her duties at the Miss Pinkerton's School ?

7. What do you think is delirium tremens ?

8. What kind of woman was Miss Pinkerton ?

9. What were Miss Sharp's privileges at the school?

10. What were Miss Sharp's pretensions regarding her descent?

(2) Passage

Travel, in the younger sort, is a part of education in the elder, a part of experience. He that travelleth into a country before he hath some: entrance into the language, goeth to school, and not to travel. Fast young mea travel under son: tutor, or grave servant. I allow well, so that he be such a one that hath the language and hath been in the country before, whereby he may be able to tell them what things are worthy to be seen in the country where they go, what acquaintances they are to seek, win exercise or discipline the place yieldeth. For else young mez shall go hooded, and look abroad little.

It is a strange thing that in sea-voyages, where there is nothing to be seen but sky and sea, men should make diaries, but in land- travel, wherein so musa is to D: observed, for the most part they omit it, as if chance were fitter to be registered than observation, Let diaries, therefore, be brought in use.

The things to be seen and observed are: the courts of princes, specially when they give audience to ambassadors; the course of justice, while they sit and hear causes, and so of consistories ecclesiastic, the churches and monasteries, with the monuments which are therein extant, the walls and fortifications of cities and towns, and so the havens and harbours, antiquities and rains, libraries, college, desperations, and lectures, when any are, shipping and natives, houses and gardens of state and pleasure, near great cities armories, arsenals, magazines, exchanges, burses, warehouses, exercises of horsemanship, fencing, training of soldiers, and the like, comedies such where up to the batter sort of persons do resort, treasuries of jewels and robes, cabinets and rarities, and, to conclude, whatsoever is memorable in the places where they go. After all which the tutors or servants ought to make diligent enquiry. As for triumphs, masques, feasts, weddings, funerals, capital executions, and such shews, men need not be put in mind of them; yet are they not to be neglected.

Questions:

1. What benefit does travel bring to the younger short and to the elder short?

2. Why does a traveller need a tator when he travels abroad?

3. How are diaries useless in sea voyages?

4.What are the things that a traveller should see in a foreign country?

5. What kind of comedies can be seen by a traveller who goesabroad?

6. What are the things that a traveller need not be put in mindof ?

7. Suggest a suitable title to the passage.

(3) Passage

The good book of the hour, then, I do not speak of the bad ons is simply the useful or pleasant tale of some the person whom you cannot otherwise converse with, printed for you." Very useful often, telling you what you need to know; very pleasant often, as a sensible friend's present talk would be. These bright accounts of travels, good-hampared and witty discassions of questions; lively or pathetic story-telling in the form of novel; firm fact-telling, by the real agents conterad in the events of passing history:-all these books of the hour, maltiplying among us as education becomes more general are a peculiar characteristic and possession of the present age: we ought to be entirely thankful for them, and entirely ashamed of our- selves if we make no good use of them.

But we make the worst possible use, if we allow them to usurp the place of true books: for, strictly speaking, they are not books at all, but merely letters or newspapers in good print. Our

friend's letter may be delightful, or actuary to-day: whether worth keeping or not, is to be considered. The awspaper may be entirely proper at breakfast time, but assuredly it is not reading for all day. So, though bound up in a volume, the long letter which gives you so pleasent an account of the inns, and roads and whether last year at sach a place, or which tells you that amusing story, or gives you the real circums tances of such and such events, however valuable for occasional refe- rence, may not be, in the real sence of the word a "book" at all, nor, in the real sence, to be "rad". A book is essentially not a talked thing, but a written thing, and written, not with the view of mere communication, but of parace The book of talk is printed only because its author cannot speak to thounds of people at once, if he could, he would the volume is mere multiplication of his voict. You canot talk to your friend in lada, if you could, you would: you write instead that is more conveyance of voice.

But a book is written, not to multiply the voice merely, not to carry it merely bat to preserve it. The author has something to say which he peretives to 5: tra and useful, or helpfully beautiful. So far as he knows, no on: has yet said it, so far as he knows, no one else can say it He is bound to say it, clearly and melodiously if he may clearly, at all events In the sun of his life he finds this to be the thing, or group of things, manifest to him:-his the piece of true knowledge, or sight, which his share of suashine and earth has permitted him to ste Heald fain set it dava for ever, engrave it on rock, if he could, saying. "This is the best of me, for the rest I ate, and dranc, and slept loved, and hated, like another; my life was as the vapour, and is not, but this I saw and knew: this, if anything of mine, is worth your memory. "This is his "writing", it is, in his small human way and with whatever degree of true ins- piration is in him, his inscripture. That is a "Book". Questions:

1. What according to the author is the good book of the hour?

2 Why should we be thankful to such books?

3. What is the worst possible way in which we san use them?

4. What is a book according to the author?

5. What would an author say about his book ?

6. Why do you think that the author does not want to speak of bad books?

7. How many kinds of books are mentioned in the passage ?

8. Why is a good book called inscription and seripture ?

9. How should a great writer express his ideas?

10. Suggest a suitable title to the passage.

(4) Passage

The farmer by this time was convinced I must be a rational crrature He spoke often to me, but the sound of his voice pierced my cars like tha of a water-mill, yet his words were articulate enough. I answered as loud as I could, in several languages, and be often laid his ear within two yards of me, but all in vain, for we were wholly uniatelligible to each other He then sent his ser- vants to their work, and taking his handkerchief out of his pocket, he doubled and spread it oa his left hand, which he placed flat on the ground, with th: palm upwards, making me sign to step into it, as I could easily do, for it was not above a foot in thickness I thought it my part to obey and for fear of falling, laid myself at length upon the handkerchief, with the remainder of which he lap ped me up to the head for further security, and in this manner carried me home to his house. There he called his wife, and showed me to her, but she screamed and ran back, as women in England do at the sight of a toad or a spider. However, when she had a Written Composition while s my behaviour, and how well I observed this signs her hand made, she was soon reconciled and by degrees grew extre- mely tender of me.

Questions:

1. What did the farmer think about the author?

2. Why did the voice of the farmer pierce his ears like the sound of a water-mill?

3. Why could they not understand each other?

4. How did the farmer carry the author home?

5. How did the farmer's wife behave when she saw him 7?

6. Why did the farmer's wife grow tender towards him?

7. What was the thickness of the handkerchief which the farmer doubled and spread on his left hand?

8. How did the author show his rationality?

(5) Passage

Great books do not spring from something accidental in the great men who wrote them They are the effluence of their very core, the expression of the life is the authors. And literature cannot be said to have served its trus parpose until it has been trans lated into the actual life of him who reads. It does not succeed until it becomes the vehicle of the vital. Progress is the gradual result of the unending battle between human reason and human iastinct, in which the former slowly but surely wins. The most powerful engine in this battle is literature. It is the vast reservoir of true

ideas and high emotions and life is constitued of ideas and emotions In a world deprived of literature, the intellectual and emotional activity of all but a few exceptionally gifted men would quickly siak and retract to a narrow circle. The broad, the noble, tae generous would tend to disappear for want of accessible storage. And life would be correspondingly degraded, because the fallacious idea and the patty emotion would never feel the upward pull of the ideas and emotions of genius. Only by conceiving a society without literature can it be clearly realize that the function of literature is to raise the plain towards the top level of t peaks. Literature exists so that where one man has lived Basly, tar thousand may afterwards live finely. It is a mans of life; it concerns the living essence.

Questions:

1. How do great books emerge?

2. When can we say that literature has served its purpose?

3. What is progress according to the author?

4. What does literature contain?

5. How would the world be it were devoid of literature ?

6. What is the function of literature?

7. What does the author mean by saying, "It (literature) is the means of life."?

(6) Passage

Early in 1858, while I was writing Decor Toorn, I was asked by the great min at the General Past O fie to go to Egypt to make a treaty with the Pasha for the carriage of our mails through that country by railway. There was a treaty in existence, but that had reference to the carriage of bags and boxes by camels frum Alexandria to Saez Since its date the raitway had grown, and was now nearly complet sd, and a new treaty wis wanted. So I came over from Dablia to Londoa, on my way, and agaia want to work among the publishers. The other novel was not unised but I thought I had now progressed far enough to arrange a sale. I wat to Mr. Bentley and demanded 400 pounds, for the copyright (He agreed. but came to me the next morning at tas Gina Post Os to say that could not be. He had goas to work at ais figures after I nad left him and had found that 303-pounds would be the most he could pay for the novel. I was intent upaa the larger sum, and in furious haste, for I had but as hour at my dag I ran to Cupman and Hall in Piccadilly, and said what I had to say to M. Edward Chapman in a quick torrent of wo.de They were ta: first of a great many words which have sinc ozen spoken by me in that book-shop. Looking at me as he might have done at a high way robber who had stopped him on Hounslow Haath he said that he supposed he might as wall do as I daured I coastered this to be a sale, and it was a sale, Iran ny

that had tas paker in his hand all the time that I was with him but in teath eva taough ha had declined to by the book, there would have basa no danger.

Questions:

1. Who asked the author to go to Egypt?

2. Why did they send him to Egypt?

3. What novel was the author writing at that time?

4 Why did he meet Mr. Bentley?

5. Why did he meet Mr. Edward Chapman?

6. For how much did he sell the copy-right of his novel?

7. Where did the author meet the two publishers?

8. Why did Mr. Bentley refuse to pay him 400 pounds?

9. What were the two occupations of the writer?

# PARAGRAPH-WRITING

A paragraph is a piece of written composition It may be an independent composition of it may be a part of a laager composi tion. An essay is made up of a number of paragrapas Just as there are stanzas in verse. tare are paragraphs in prose If you want to master the art of wriung an ensay you must first mister the art of writing a paragraph. Normally a paragraph comprises a number of sentences Sometimes, even a single sentens can be a paragraph So, what is essential is that a paragraph must express one complete ida There is no ru regarding the leagth of a paragraph There are long paragraphs and short paragraphs The length of a para- graph depends upon the convenience of tas com nuaicator In the past, writers like Matoa wrote long pragraphs Later, such essayists as Addison and Steele began the convention of writing short pira- graphs. The modern trend is to write short paragraphs though even many modern writers write long paragraphs.

The Salient Features of a Paragraph:

(1) Unity: A paragraph must have unity of thought That means, it must express one single ida All the sentences in the para- graph must be related to that central idea Exch sentence in the paragraph must say something new about that central idea. There should not be a single sentence in the paragraph which is not related to the central idea. The sentences in a paragraph may be explana- tory of expository or descriptive or narrative but they should be rela- ted to the central idea. A paragraph must possess this kind of unity or oneness of thought

(2) Logicality: We should remember that a paragraph is not a mere combination of sentences If some sentences are jumbled together in a disorderly manner, they do not mike up a paragraph. There should be logicality in a paragraph Wit is said earlier must logically lead to what is said next. In this manner, as sentences in a paragraph must constitute a logically developed argument or statement.

(3) The beginning and the end The beginning and the end of a paragraph are of great importance. They should be striking. The first sentence must capture the attention of the reader. If it is the first sentence of the first paragraph of an essay, it must suggest or state the central idea of the essay in an introductory manner. If it is the first sentence of a paragraph in the middle of an essay, it must take up the next step in the argument. Simdarly the final sentence in a paragraph mad be striking If it is an independent paragraph, the last sentence must give a conclusion to the argument. If it is the last sentence of a paragraph in the middle of an esuy, it must conclude the argument of the paragraph and suggest the next step in the argument.

(4) Variety: Variety is a necessity in composition. All para- graphs should not be in the same tone. If they are so, they sound manotonous. There should be variety in the tone of each paragraph. There should also be variety in respect of length, illustration, exam- ples and other

devices of communication. Study of the following Model Paragraphs and learn the art of writing paragraphs.

(1) Sports: Sports have an important place in the educational comicalum. In the past, they were classified as extracurricular acti- vies but today they are called co-curricular activities. Education is not a process of merely imparting information to students. In the past, it was believed that the task of education was merely to enable students to memorise facts. Charles Dickens in his novel "Hard rimes satirises this kind of education and says that such factual education brings no benefit to stadents. On the contrary, it harms students Education actually means drawing out one innate poten- talities of children They possess three innate potentialities namely the power to act with the body; the power to think with the mind and the power to feel with the heart. The aim of education is to develop, direct and discipline these potentialities of children. Sports help stadens to develop their physical agility and health. By means of sports students can develop strong and healthy bodies. This is one vital aspect of education. Sports have both advantages and disadvantages. They help students to develop strong and healthy bodies. They inspire team spirit in them and create in them the mental poise by means of which they can face success and failure with equanimity. Sports also inspire feelings of rivalry in students. They may take away much of their useful time and they may also bring about mental aberrations but if properly controlled and directed, sports can be immensely useful in the process of educating our youth.

(2) The T. V.: The T. V. is one of the greatest wonders of the modern age. It is indeed a dream come true. Once people used to dream of developing the ability to see what was happening at a great distance. They tried to realise their objective by means of magic but they failed. Today, by means of science and technology, we have achieved that objective. The T. V. has reached the common man. Today by means of the T. V. we can see what is happening at great distances, at the same time A cricket match being played in a distant city like Delhi or even in foreign countries can be seen on the T. V., at the same time. This is indeed a tremendous achievement. The T. V. bestows upon us three great boons namely entertainment, education and enlightenment. Of course, the T. V. has its disadvantages. All the programmes may not be interesting; it may take away mach of oar useful time and it may also cause som: optical and pychological disorders, but these things happen only to addicts. The T. V. is indeed a boon to those who can use it sensibly.

(3) Industrialise or perish: This is the slogan that Sri M. Visweswarayaiah advocated. It means that a nation can flourish economically by means of industries and that if it does not indus- trialise itself, it will perish. The prosperous nations like the U. S. A. and the U. & S. R. have achieved their economic prosperity by means of industrialisation. Tas countries that are economically backward owe their backwardness to their industrial backwardness. For instance our own country, India was absolutely backward economi- cally daring the British region: In those days, there were no large scale industries in India bat today we have a large number of indus- tries like the H.A.L, the H.M.T. the BHEL, and countless others. These industries besides providing joos to millions of people have increased the economic prosperity of India. Ours is a develop- ing nation. It can achieve higher levels of prosperity oaly by means of industries, So, we should start more and

more industries. Other- wise, our country's economy will decline. This is tru: with every undeveloped of developing nation.

(4) Electricity: Electricity is a from of energy which has been extremely useful to human beings. In olden days, people had to depend on fire-wood, char-coal and various kinds of oil for lighting and heating. The discovery of electricity was a great boon to humanity. We have been using electric energy not only for heating and lighting but also to run our industries both large and small. This new energy revolutionized industrial production throughout the world. We have electric lights, fans, stove and countless other appliances that have rendered our life easy and comfortable. Power- stations generate electricity and it is supplied to us. Electric lights brighten not only cities but also villages and rural areas. Indeed, the world would have been backward if we did not have electric energy at our disposal.

(5) The habit of reading: The habit of reading is highly bene ficial. Francis Bacon says "Reading maketh a full man." We should cultivate this habit when we are young, and we should encourage our children to develop this habit. By reading books we get knowledge and all of us know that knowledge brightens our lives. This habit also brings us healthy entertainment. Above alli t makes us understand the past events and present event, and helps us to step into the future with wiser and firmer steps. Most of us have leisure. Our lives will be happy if we spend our leisure in the parsuit of some healthy hobby If we do not have a healthy hobby leisure can cause much havoc to us. The habit of reading is an excellent hobby. Of course, we should choose the right books to read. We should not waste our tim: reading all sorts of book, we should choose such books as can bestow upon us light and sweetness calightenment and entertainment. Indeed, those who have deve- lopment. Indeed, those who have developed the habit of reading are fortunate.

## XX. EXPANSION OF PROVERBS

Expansion means normally expanding into a paragraph the idea contained ia a sate meat or a proverb that is given for expan- sion Ananda mait con in the following itens. (1) Meaning: we should explain the meaning of the given statene. It may have a literal meaning and a metaphorical mining We should explain both the meaning in our own words. (2) Illustratio: We must use some illustrato tik on life literature or history to explain the meaning o' t statem:at or proverb, (3) Conclusion: Here we must say whether we accept the idea contained in the passage or not If we do not accept the idea we should refute it with a brief argument or illaura. Either way we mist end the paragraph with a fitting conclusion.

(1) All that glitters is not gold: All articles that glitter may not be made of gold Sonetim, we see an article placed with gold and mistake it for gold. In the sin: manner, all the people who seem to be wealthy outwardly may not be really wealthy. Some people who live in bungalows, wear expensive dress and move about in cars may not be really rich. All that may be external glitter. According, they may not have any money and they might have incur- red heavy debts. So, we cannot go by appearances. For instance, all people who put on the saffron clothes of asceticism

may not be really ascetics. They may not have discarded their attachments and hatred and they may not have conquered their inner enemies like desire, anger, avarice, infatuation, pride and jealousy. Appea rances can be deceptive, but at the same time, we cannot also assert that all that glitters is not gold becaas: gold also glitters. Angels are bright thought the brightest fell. Yet, we can say that in this life of ours sometimes appearances are deceptive and so we should not go by appearances. We should probe the appearances and dis- cover the truth about an article or a person.

(2) A rolling stone gathers no mose: This proverb has two levels of measing It has a literal meaning as well as a metaphorical meaning Literally, the statement means that a stone that keeps rolling from place to place does not gather moss, Moss is a kind Expansion of Proverbs of green plant. It is a small herbaceous plant which grows in bogsor on stones and other things. Metaphorically, the statement means that a person who keeps changing his profession or his educational course does not gather any experience or knowledge. A student may study literature for one year. Then he gives it up and starts. studying music. After sometime, he stop: studying music and takes up painting If a student keeps thus changing his plans of study. he cannot gather thorough knowledge in any field. Similarly, a man who keeps changing his professions dos no: acquire thoroughness in any profession Such a man will be a Jack of all trades but a master of none. With reference to such people we say a rolling stonegathers no moss. (3) Habit is second nature: The statement means that habit is as powerful as nature. Human beings have natural needs as well as the needs prompted by their habits. Food, water, air, sunlight are essential for our existence. Our nature needs them. We cannot live without food, water, air or sunlight, out human beings have their habits such as drinking coffee or smoking cigarettes. Our ance- stors never drank coffee and never smoked cigarettes They did not have those habits. So, they d d not need them out today most people drink coffee and many s noke. Taeir habits after sometim: oecome so strong that they will not be able to do anything if their habits of drinking coffee or smoking are not satisded. Taes: habits o:come as powerful as nature. Tas needs prompted by habis become as powerful as natural needs. So, we say haoit is second nature. We do certain things naturally cait is a acordance with our nature and we do certain things habitually in accordanc: wita our habits and our habitual actions become as natural as our natural actions. Hence it is said that habit is second nature.

(4) Rome was not built in a day: Literally, this proverb means that the magnificent city of Rome was not built in a short time. It might have taken several countries to build it and a lot of human laoour was required to build it. Metaphorically; 'the statement means that any great task cannot be carried out in a short time. For instance, if one; wants to master English literature, one cannot achieve this objective within a few days. One must work with concentration and dedication for years and years. One must study the great works written by the great English poets, dramatists, novelists and essayists. One must also study the critical works relating to them and one must assimilate all that material. This requires a lot of industry, spread over many years. Hence we say that Rome was not built in a day.

(5) Knowledge is power: Knowledge gives us power. Igno- rance makes us weak. In olden days, human beings were powerless against the forces of nature. In those days, mountains were insur- mountable barriers and seas were limitations to human ambition, 186 Written Composition That was so because they did not possess knowledge. Today, we are living in the age of science and technology. We have acquired a lot of knowledge regarding our environment. On account of this knowledge, we have conquered nature to some extent. Today, we can easily cross oceans by ships, we can fly over seas and mountains in aeroplanes. We have industries in which things are produced on a large scale. We have such means of communication as the radio, the T.V. and the movis. We have broken th: atom and released the tremendous energy contained in it which can be used either for peaceful or destructive purposes. We have acquired this tremendous power on account of our scientific knowledge. So, knowledge is power.

(6) Make hay while the sun shines: In countries like England where farmers do not grow piddy or ragi, they have to depend on nature for fodder for their cattle. During summer when the Sun shines, they should cut grass in meadows, dry it, and preserve it for winter. In winter, they do not get grass in meadows or fields. Such is the literal meaning of the provero, but it has a metaphorical meaning which is the real meaning implied in it. It means that we should make use of an opportunity when we get it. Time and tide waits for no man. For instance, when we are students we have the opportunity of gathering knowledge. At that time, we should gather knowledge; and store it in our minds It will be greatly us:ful to us later. So we say that we should make hiy (l.e. dry grass) while the sun shines. Another way in which we can apply the proverb is this. During the Deepawali season, merchants dealing in crackers must carry out their business and earn som: profit. They cannot carry on that business at other times with profit. Hence, we say that we should make hay while the sun shines.

(7) The Pen is mightier than the Sword: According to this statement, the pen is mightier than the sword Here the statement contains a figure of speech called Many; because the instru- ment stands for the agent. The pen stands for the author and the sword stands for the soldier So, the proverb means that writers are more powerful than soldiers. Normill, we think that soldiers are mightly because they fight wars, defeat enemies, capture kingdoms and achieve victories. We can cite the examples for such great military heroes as Julius Caesar. Alexander, Napoleon and Hitler. They were mighty warriors of outstanding militarie prowess. They routed their enemies, achieved splendid victories and built great empires. But they could not make any real conquest. A real conquest is different from conquering enemies and compelling them to obey us. Writers of eminence are really more powerful than military heroes. For instance, Voltaire and Rousseau wrote great works which were instrumental in causing the historic French Revolution. The Ramayan and the Mahabharatha have influenced the minds and hearts of millions of people through countless centuries Expansion of Proverbs and have been the sources of the loftiest kind of knowledge and wisdom. It is beyond the power of military heroes to achieve this kind of victory. Therefore, it is said that the pen is mightier than the sword.

(8) Slow and steady wins the race: This is a well-known proverb. It means that those who are slow and steady win the race and that those who work by fits and starts often fail to achieve their objectives. This point can be illustrated, by means of the famous fable of the hare and the tortoise. The hare which was confident of reaching the goal easily, slept thinking that it would run to the goal in a few moments but the tortoise though slow in movement kept steadily moving towards the goal without wasting a single minute. At the end it was the tortoise that reached the goil while the hare remained far behind. In the same manner, a student who works regularly everyday for a definite period of tim: passes the examina- tion easily while a student who is intelligent and who on account of over-confidence wastes time thinking that he can pass the examination easily by studying at the end may fail. So, we say that slow and steady wins the race.

(9) Familiarity breeds contempt: It is said that familiarity breeds contempt. In support of this view, we can cite the example of the tribal women in the Malaya forests using sandal wood as fuel since sandal wood is aoundant there. Too much of familiarity with people may cause indifference and they may not care for us. If we keep visiting our relatives often, they may not show us affec- tion and honour. Those who live in Agra always do not care to visit the Taj Mahal because they are familiar with it but visitors come from all over the world to see the Taj Mahal. Hence we say that too much of familiarity breeds contempt. There is some truth in this statement but there is the other possibility also. Familiarity may breed liking also. Suppose we become intimate with a person, then we can see clearly his virtues and excellences which cannot be see in the absence of intimacy. Similarly, if we are familiar with the Taj Mahal, if we see it often with care and concentration, we may see in it some new graces and excellences. Therefore familiarity may also breed liking and admiration.

(10) The people who live in glass houses should not throw stones at others: Literally, this proverb means that those who are living in glass houses should not throw stones at others because if others throw stones at them in retaliation their glass houses would of all to pieces. But this proverb has a metaphorical meaning. Metaphorically, it means that those who are at fault should not find fault with others. If they do so, the others would expose their faults. For instance, a corrupt man should not condemn or criticise the corruption in others. If he does so, the others would expose his corruption; and in consequence he will have to face disgrace and punishment. Therefore, before criticising others we must see that Written Composition we are perfect. If we are not perfect and faultless, we have no right to condemn others; and if we condemn others while we are faulty we will have to face bitter and painful consequences; hence we say that those who live in glass houses should not throw stones at others.

(11) Virtue is its own reward: It is a fact that a virtue is its owa reward. Normally, in this word, when people do some great things, they are rewarded by society. For example Sir C. V. Raman made original con tribution to physics by discovering the Ramin Effect. Similarly paople are rawarded for their achievements or other services. But virtue naad not be thus rewarded. Virtue is its own reward. For example Sita, the heroine of Rimayan possessed out. standing purity, chastity, and suolimity. Her virtues need not be rewarded. If we have some great virtue we do not desire

any rewarded for it. Gold, was it is pure ased not be praised as it is gold. But other objects when they possess at least a part of the quality of gold, we praiss them and honour them. We say referring to a good man that he is good as gold, gold itself need not be praised. Similarly a person possessing extra-ordinary virtues, need not be praised or rewarded. So we say virtue is its own reward.

(12) Charity begins at home: It is trus that charity should begin at home. It means that we should be kind and helpful to the members of our family first and then if we have time and means wo can extend our charity to others, Charity means kindness and affection. The statement means that charity is first due to our kith and kin. After providing food, raiment and shelter to our immediate dependents in our family, we can extend our charity to others outside. There are some social workers who devote all their time and energy to social service ignoring their kith and kin. This is not proper. In a philosophical sense also we should extend kind- ness and natural affection to one kith and kin first and then we can extend charity to others. There is also a humorous aspect to this statement. Sometimes people use this statement to avoid helping others.

(13) Sweet are the uses of Adversity: This statement is found in 'As you like it written by Shakespeare. Duke Senior, the banished duke had to live in the forest of Arden in exile. He had been usurped by his younger brother. Duke Frederick. Duck Senior says that adversity has many beaclits or advantages, Court-life is poisoned with jealousies, ambitions and villiany, while life in the forest is free from all those things Though the Duke resumes his Dukedom later, while living in the forest of Arden he makes his statement in appreciation of adversity. Of course life in the forest was felicitious and peaceful. When we think of human life in general we find that adversity has many advantages. For instance, adversity or poverty can bring out our inhate virtues.

The End

# YOGI VEMANA UNIVERSITY,KADAPA

# DEPARTMENT OF ENGLISH

**M.A ENGLISH LITERATUREAND LANGUAGE**

# SEMESTER - II

**ENGYVU201: POETRY – II**

**With Effect From 2021-22 (Under NEP 2020 )**

## Program Educational Objectives (PEOs)

- To introduce the students to the important themes in poetry fourteenth century to eighteenth century through the prescribed study.
- To acquaint the student with the nature of Works in general and in particular.
- To discuss various topics relevant to a study of the poetry.

**UNIT – I**

| | | |
|---|---|---|
| **Background Study** | **:** | **Literary History – Genres – Movements – Ideas Trends - Concepts - Literary Terms: Dramatic Monologue** |

**UNIT – II**

| | | |
|---|---|---|
| **1. Robert Browning** | **:** | **1.My Last Duchess, 2.Andrea Del Sarto** |
| **2. G.M. Hopkins** | **:** | **1.The Windhover, 2.The Wreck of the Deutschland** |

**UNIT – III**

| | | |
|---|---|---|
| **3. W.B. Yeats** | **:** | **1. Byzantium, 2. Among School Children,** |
| **4. T.S. Eliot** | **:** | **The Waste Land** |

**UNIT – IV**

| | | |
|---|---|---|
| **5. Ted Hughes** | **:** | **1. The Thought Fox, 2. Hawk Roosting, 3. Snow Drop** |
| **6. Dylan Thomas** | **:** | **Do Not Go Gentle into that Good Night** |

## ProgrammeSpecific Outcomes (PSOs)

- Creates awareness of the literary movements as metaphysical, Romantic etc.
- Familiarizes literary terms as Ode, epic, satire, Elegy, lyric.
- Analyses critically the British poetry from fourteenth century to eighteen century.

## Suggested Reading


- English Verse: Voice and Movement from Wyatt to Yeats – Barnes
- Twentieth Century English Poetry: Anthony Thwaite
- Modern Poets Four (Faber and Faber, London, Rpt., 1970)
- New Bearings in English Poetry, F. R. Leavis
- The Victorian Experience: Poets – Levine
- A History of Modern Poetry – Perkins
- The Modern Poets: A Critical Introduction - M. L. Rosenthal (O.U.P)


**********

**Unit 1:**

**Poetry in the Victorian world**

1. **Introduction**
2. **Victorian Poets**
3. **Major Themes: an Overview**
4. **Study Questions**
5. **Suggested Readings**
6. **6. Bibliography**

**Structure**

1. **Introduction**

**Victorian Literature**

The important writing of the Victorian period is to a large extent the product of a double awareness. This was a literature addressed with great immediacy to the needs of the age, to the particular temper of mind which had grown up within a society seeking adjustment to the conditions of modern life. And to the degree that the problems which beset the world of a century ago retain their urgency and still await solution, the ideas of the Victorian writers remain relevant and interesting to the twentieth century. Any enduring literature, however, must transcend topicality; and the critical disesteem into which so much Victorian writing

has fallen may be traced to the persistent notion that the literary men of that time oversubscribed to values with which our own time is no longer in sympathy. Yet this view ignores the fact that nearly all the eminent Victorian writers were as often as not at odds with their age and that in their best work they habitually appealed not to, but *against* the prevailing mores of that age. The reader who comes to the Victorians without bias must be struck again and again by the underlying tone of unrest which pervades so much that is generally taken as typical of the period. Sooner or later he begins to wonder whether there is any such thing as a representative Victorian writer, or at any rate, whether what makes him representative is not that very quality of intransigeance as a result of which he repudiated his society and sought refuge from the spirit of the times in the better ordered realm of interior consciousness. Since, however, any tendency to exalt individual awareness at the expense of conventionally established attitudes ran counter to the concept of the role of the artist which the Victorian age tried to impose on its writers, there resulted a conflict which has been too often ignored, but which must be taken into account in reaching any satisfactory evaluation of Victorian literature. This was a conflict, demonstrable within the work of the writers themselves, between the public conscience of the man of letters who comes forward as the accredited literary spokesman of his world, and the private conscience of the artist who conceives that his highest allegiance must be to his own aesthetic sensibilities.

Most Victorian writers still thought of themselves as men of letters in the full meaning of the term. Victorian literature was predominantly a literature of ideas, and of ideas, furthermore, brought into direct relation with the daily concerns of the reading public. To a degree now inconceivable the influential literary types of the nineteenth century wer

expository in character-the essay, tract, and treatise. The student who wishes to understand the Victorian world begins with such works as *Past and Present*,*The Stones of Venice*, *On Liberty*, *Culture and Anarchy* (text). The assumption that a writer's first responsibility is to get into close correspondence with his audience induced many of the original thinkers in the period to turn aside from their fields of special knowledge, to the end of making their theories more generally accessible. SoMill, Carlyle, Ruskin, Arnold, Morris, Huxley, after achieving distinction along specialized lines, gave up exclusive concentration on these in order to apply the disciplines they had mastered to subjects of the broadest human import. Or, to consider the novel, Dickens, George Eliot, Disraeli, Kingsley, Mrs. Gaskell, and Charles Reade all quite evidently chose themes with an eye to their social significance.

Yet, paradoxically, it becomes increasingly difficult to think of the great Victorians as other than solitary and unassimilated figgres within their century. Deeply as they allowed themselves to be involved in the life of the times, familiarity seemed only to breed contempt. Their writings, inspired by a whole-hearted hostility to the progress of industrial culture, locate the centers of authority not in the existing social order but within the resources of individual being. Nor was this procedure merely a reaction to the isolation which is traditionally visited on prophets without honor, although for many the years brought disillusionment and bitterness over the debacle of cherished programs of reform. The prestige of a Carlyle or Ruskin or Newman may almost be said to have risen in inverse proportion to the failure of their preachments. At the core of the malaise which pervades so much that is best in Victorian literature lies a sense, often inarticulate, that modern society has originated tendencies inimical to the life of the creative imagination. By mid-century the circumstances of successful literary production had begun to make demands on writers

which strained to the breaking point their often very considerable capacities for compromise. Among novelists the careers of Dickens and Thackeray epitomize the all but intolerable difficulties of reconciling popular appeal with artistic integrity. A new generation, led by Rossetti and Swinburne, was to resolve the dilemma by an outspoken assertion of the artist's apartness; but for the writers who came of age in the 1830's and 1840's no such categorical disavowal of social commitment was admissible. As a result, there is recognizable in their work a kind of tension originating in the serious writer's traditional desire to communicate, but to do so without betraying the purity of his creative motive even in the face of a public little disposed to undergo the rigors of aesthetic experience. Even when, as was too often the case, their love of fame overcame their artistic restraint, traces of the initiating conflict remain imbedded in what they wrote; and it is these constantly recurring evidences of a twofold awareness which, perhaps more than any other trait, give its distinctive quality to the writing of the Victorian age.

Victorian Poetry is a major re-evaluation of the genre by one of the foremost scholars of the period. In a work that is uniquely comprehensive and theoretically astute, Isobel Armstrong rescues Victorian poetry from its longstanding sepia image as a moralized form of romantic verse', and unearths its often subversive critique of nineteenth-century culture and politics. For the first time, the aesthetics and politics of Victorian poetry are brought together in a sustained historical discussion. Isobel Armstrong examines its conservative and dissident traditions, and compares the work of familiar middle-class male poets to that of female and working-class poets. Victorian Poetry brilliantly demonstrates the extraordinary sophistication of the genre. At the same time it presents a vigorous challenge to some crucial issues in contemporary Marxist, post-structuralist and feminist criticism.

Writers of the Victorian era created literature that commented on societal, economical, religious, and philosophical ideas of the time. Much of Victorian literature criticized the increased industrialization of the world, and on the other hand, the deterioration of the rural lifestyle. Much Victorian literature dabbled in satire as it critiqued the society it entertained. While the middle class increased its political power over society, the poor had to make due with less. Writers of the Victorian era critiqued this imbalance of power in theirwork.

Victorian literature addressed the themes of conflict among the classes as well as the burgeoning push for women's rights. However, the defining characteristic of Victorian literature is a strong focus on morality. Heroes of Victorian literature are often the oppressed members of society, such as the poor. Victorian writers romanticized hard work and strong virtue. Characters with good morals were usually rewarded, while characters who acted poorly received their just desserts in the end. Victorian fiction was often written with the intention of teaching a moral lesson to readers. Underneath the moral surface, characters in Victorian literature are often teeming with passion and tempted by evil. The characters of Victorian literature, however, show restraint against their wild emotions—a restraint that was abandoned by the Romantic writers who came before, celebrating wildness and uncontrollable emotions.

Another popular theme of Romantic literature was the celebration of the past. During the Victorian era, many readers also sought stories about chivalry and courtly love. The poet laureate of the time—Alfred, Lord Tennyson—published a cycle of twelve narrative poems called "Idylls of the King" in the mid-nineteenth century. The poems told the story of the legend of King Arthur's kingdom, although some details were changed to better teach the

moral lessons of the day. For instance, in Tennyson's version of the story, Lady Guinevere repents for her infidelities to the king by spending the rest of her life in a convent. Many critics saw the poems as an allegory for popular problems in Victorian culture, such as the struggle to remain morally ideal and women's attempts at earning more power.

# Victorian Poetry

Victorian Poetry is a major re-evaluation of the genre by one of the foremost scholars of the period. In a work that is uniquely comprehensive and theoretically astute, Isobel Armstrong rescues Victorian poetry from its longstanding sepia image as a `a moralised form of romantic verse', and unearths its often subversive critique of nineteenth- century culture and politics. For the first time, the aesthetics and politics of Victorian poetry are brought together in a sustained historical discussion. Isobel Armstrong examines its conservative and dissident traditions, and compares the work of familiar middle-class male poets to that of female and working-class poets. Victorian Poetry brilliantly demonstrates the extraordinary sophistication of the genre. At the same time it presents a vigorous challenge to some crucial issues in contemporary Marxist, post-structuralist and feminist criticism.

The foremost poet of the Victorian period was Alfred, Lord Tennyson, who served as poet laureate of the United Kingdom from 1850 until his death in 1892. Much of Tennyson's poetry focused on the retellings of classical myths. He experimented with meter, but most of his poetry followed strict formatting—a reflection of the strict formality of the Victorian era. His work often focused on the conflict between allegiance to religion and the new discoveries being made in the field of science.

Husband and wife team Robert and Elizabeth Barrett Browning became famous for the love poems they wrote to each other. Elizabeth was already an accomplished poet when she met her future husband in 1845. He influenced her to publish her love poems, which significantly increased her popularity. Also worth mention in a discussion of the Victorian era is a collection of writers and artists called the PreRaphaelite Brotherhood of which Dante Gabriel Rossetti and his sister Christina were a part. In the late 1840s, a group of English artists organized the Pre-Raphaelite Brotherhood with the goal of replacing the popular academic approach to painting with the more natural approach taken by artists who worked before the Italian Renaissance. Several writers joined this movement, echoing a simpler, less formal approach to writing literature.

In criticizing Victorian poetry it is necessary to keep this ambivalence in mind; and this is especially true for Tennyson, Browning, and Arnold, the poets who touched their period at the greatest number of points. The history of nineteenth century English poetry records a gradual, but radical shift in the relationship of the artist to his public with the three poets just mentioned occupying a position at dead center of the forces which were in opposition. A divorce between the artist and society first became conspicuous as an element of the Romantic movement; but even though they had to endure abuse or neglect, the Romantics did not in any sense think of themselves as abdicating the poet's traditional right to speak for his age. Blake, Coleridge,Wordsworth, Byron, Shelley, [xi/xii] Keats were all, it is true, keenly sensitive to their generation's reluctance to pay attention to what they were saying, but they accepted isolation as a necessary consequence of their revolutionary program. That they should confess defeat, with the alternatives either of self-withdrawal or compromise, never seriously occurred to them. On the contrary, they declared open

warfare on the prejudices which would dispossess them and continued to assert that the poet's vision is transcendently of intellectual and spiritual truth. Before the end of the century, however, the conflict thus resolutely engaged had been lost, and the artist had come to accept as a foregone conclusion his inefficacy as of his contemporaries. In compensation, he now espoused the aesthetic creed which goes by the name of art for art's sake, and withPater and then Wilde as his apologists and Rossetti and Swinburne as his models, embraced his alienation from all but a coterie of initiates persuaded like himself to value the forms of art above its message.

Between the Romantics and the Pre-Raphaelites lie Tennyson, Browning, and Arnold, leading the poetic chorus of the great Victorian noonday. By virtue of this midway position between the two extremes represented by the schools of poetry which came before and after, their work brings into sharp focus the choice which has been forced on the modern artist. In the common view, these mid-Victorian poets, either unable or unwilling to maintain the spirit of bellicose self-sufficiency which sustained their Romantic forbears, achieved rapprochement with their audience by compromising with the middle-class morality of the time, and in so doing deliberately sacrificed artistic validity. So flagrant a betrayal of the creative impulse, the argument then continues, provoked a reaction in the following generation, whereby the pendulum swung back towards the belief that art is and must be its own justification irrespective of ulterior motive. But this version of the poetic situation in the nineteenth century gravely misrepresents the real meaning of an endeavor on which Tennyson, Browning, and Arnold were alike engaged. For each of them was ultimately seeking to define the sphere within which the modern poet may exercise his faculty, while holding in legitimate balance the rival claims of his private, aristocratic insights

and of the tendencies existing in a society progressively vulgarized by the materialism of both the nineteenth and twentieth century. Thus it came about that the double awareness, which so generally characterized the Victorian literary mind, grew almost into a perpetual state of consciousness in these poets through their efforts to work out a new aesthetic position for the artist.

The literary careers of Tennyson, Browning, and Arnold present a number of striking parallels which, since their poetic endowments were so divergent, can only be explained in terms of influences impinging on them from the outside. In the early manner of each there is an introspective, even a cloistral element which was later subdued in an obvious attempt to connect with contemporary currents of thought. Of the three, Tennyson succeeded most quickly in conforming to the Victorian ideal of the poet as popular bard; his reward was the laureateship as Wordsworth's successor. Browning's progress in public favor was more gradual, but the formation of the Browning Society in 1881 signalized his eventual arrival within the select company of Victorian idols of the hearth. Less versatile in poetic range, Arnold became a full-fledged man of letters and won the prestige of the Oxford Professorship of Poetry only after turning to prose; and it is perhaps worth pondering whether his inability to bring his poetry into closer accord with the demands of the age does not account for the fact that he has attracted a greater amount of serious critical attentionin recent years than either Tennyson or Browning.

The Victorian writer, of course, had to acclimate himself to a reading public vastly bigger in size and more diverse and unpredictable in its literary requirements than any that had existed hitherto. There is something astonishing, even slightly appalling, in the unselective voracity with which the Victorians wolfed down *In Memoriam* and

Bailey's *Festus*, *The Origin of Species*, and Samuel Smiles' *Self-help*, the novels of Dickens and the tales of Harriet Martineau. The ill success of their first volumes early awakened Tennyson, Browning, and Arnold to a realization that under existing conditions originality was no passport to artistic acclaim. The critics were for the most part hostile; but it was the disapprobation of intimate friends which carried the greatest weight. For while the poets might turn a deaf ear to the voice of the age as it spoke through the weekly and monthly journals which had feebly replaced the *Edinburgh* and *Quarterly Reviews* as arbiters in literary matters, the well-intended strictures of a Hallam or Elizabeth Barrett or Clough were another matter. And friends and foes were at one in their insistence that the poets take a broader view of their responsibilities as men of letters. In general, their work drew reproof on three counts, one major and two incidental thereto. It was unduly introspective and self- obsessed and as a result it was too often obscure content and precious in manner. All three faults are chargeable to immaturity; but as attributed indiscriminately to Tennyson, Browning, and Arnold, thev carry additional implications suggestive of the tyranny which the age was to exercise over its artists. For the invariable in- ference in the attacks on these poets is that their faults could easily be remedied by more attention to normal human thoughts and activities, and correspondingly by less infatuation with their own private statesof being.

The experiments in the narrative and dramatic modes to which Tennyson, Browning, and Arnold turned so early in their careers were certainly undertaken out of a desire to counteract objections of this kind. Yet it is apparent from the vagaries of their critical reputations that they were never sure enough of their audience to be able to estimate its response with any degree of reliability. The appearance of a *Maud* or*Sordello* or *Empedocles*

*on Etna*, interspersed among more admired efforts, is continuing evidence that the best will in the world could not compensate for temperamental variances with prevailing tastes which went much deeper than the authors themselves always recognized. That they should have professed impatience with the often obtuse and [xiv/xv] ill-considered estimates of their poetry is not in itself surprising; but it is to be noted that as time went on they tended increasingly to transfer this resentment to the reading public at large. In their later days Tennyson and Arnold would have agreed with Browning's statement in "Red Cotton Night- Cap Country" about "artistry being battle with the age/ It lives in!" There is, of course, an element of the disingenuous in such professions of disdain for popular favor; and their assumed indifference cannot disguise the fact that all three poets were keenly sensitive to the fluctuations of their literary stock. In this respect they were no more than exhibiting an awareness natural to men of letters possessed of an inherent belief in the instrumentality ofliterature as a social force.

Yet again, the conventional explanation does not cover the facts; and we are brought back to the dichotomy which emerges from any close analysis of the relations between the artist and society in the Victorian period. The hallmark of the literary personalities of Tennyson, Browning, and Arnold alike is a certain aristocratic aloofness, a stubborn intractability which is likely to manifest itself at just those points where the contemporary social order assumed automatic conformity with its dictates. Thus, their refusal to be restricted by current suppositions is less often a subterfuge to cover a fear of failure than a forthright avowal of the artist's independence from societal pressures whenever these threaten to inhibit the free play of his imaginative powers. Tennyson, Browning, and Arnold never went to the lengths of the poets who came after in disassociating themselves from

their audience. On the other hand, there is a fundamental error in the prevalent notion that they uncritically shared most of the foibles that, rightly or wrongly, are attributed to the Victorians. Such an opinion overlooks that quality of double awareness which we are now toinvestigate as the crux of the Victorian literary consciousness.

# Victorian Poets

The Victorian poetry is divided in two main groups of poetry: The High Victorian Poetry and The Pre-Raphaelites. Dealing with the first group, “the major High Victorian poets were Alfred, Lord Tennyson, Robert Browning, Elizabeth Barret Browning, Matthew Arnold and Gerard Manley Hopkins.”

Queen Victoria's reign made the idea of empire appear in poetry, and one of the poets who used it was Tennyson. For Robert Browning, the dramatic monologue was a great innovation, but Alfred Tennyson and Dante Rossetti invented and used it too (in the Pre-Raphaelites). ”T o be a dramatic monologue a poem must have a speaker and an implied auditor, and that the reader often perceives a gap between what that speaker says and

what he or she actually reveals”, but there are some poets that does not agree with this last idea as Glenn Everett who “proposes that Browninesque dramatic monologue has three requirements (1.The reader takes the part of the listener. 2. The speaker uses a case- making, argumentative tone. 3. We complete the dramatic scene from within, by means of inference and imagination.)”. Elizabeth Barret Browning's poetry was important for the feminist literature because before her poetry there were not too much poetry about feminism.Matthew Arnold was “influenced by Wordsworth” and “often considered a

precursor of the modernist revolution." And Hopkins wrote in an unusual style and influenced a lot of the 1940s' poets.

Victorian poetry does not have a topic in the poems about love and worship of Nature as the Romantics had in their poetry. It is because the Romantics loved Nature and it was shown through their poems adoring and blessing her as if she were God. But, in the Victorian poetry we have not found themes related to the topic of this paper, love and worship of Nature because the Victorians do not talk about her in their poetry. Therefore, we will not relate this topic with the Victorians, but we will talk about the Nature that the Victorian poets refer to in the descriptions of places in the poems and the love and worship of God in comparison with love and worship of Nature, Nature understood as part of God, created by Him, maybe as a personification of God himself in the Earth.

First of all, it can be mentioned that, the selection of poems has been made taking only the topic of this work into account and not the importance of the poem itself in the poet's poems. Then, we are going to show some of the poems of the most important High Victorian poets that refer to Nature or that have some aspects related with Nature.

The prominent poet of the Victorian age was Alfred, Lord Tennyson. Although romantic in subject matter, his poetry was tempered by personal melancholy; in its mixture of social certitude and religious doubt it reflected the age. The poetry of Robert Browning and his wife, Elizabeth Barrett Browning, was immensely popular, though Elizabeth's was more venerated during their lifetimes. Browning is best remembered for his superb dramatic monologues. Rudyard Kipling, the poet of the empire triumphant, captured the quality of

the life of the soldiers of British expansion. Some fine religious poetry was produced by Francis Thompson, Alice Meynell, Christina Rossetti, and Lionel Johnson.

In the middle of the 19th cent. the so-called Pre-Raphaelites, led by the painter-poet Dante Gabriel Rossetti, sought to revive what they judged to be the simple, natural values and techniques of medieval life and art. Their quest for a rich symbolic art led them away, however, from the mainstream. William Morris—designer, inventor, printer, poet, and social philosopher—was the most versatile of the group, which included the poets Christina Rossetti and Coventry Patmore.

Algernon Charles Swinburne began as a Pre-Raphaelite but soon developed his own classically influenced, sometimes florid style. A. E. Housman and Thomas Hardy, Victorian figures who lived on into the 20th cent., share a pessimistic view in their poetry, but Housman's well-constructed verse is rather more superficial. The great innovator among the late Victorian poets was the Jesuit priest Gerard Manley Hopkins. The concentration and originality of his imagery, as well as his jolting meter ("sprung rhythm"), had a profound effect on 20th-century poetry.

When Victoria came on the throne of England in 1837, English literature seemed to have entered into a period of lean years. Only sweet memories and poetic fruitfulness by the Romantic poets were remained, while the poets had passed away. It seemed that no writer was there in England to fulfill their place. But later on we find that Alfred Tennyson and Robert Browning have tried to fulfill that empty place. Let we have a little bit knowledgeof the Victorian poets.

# Lord Alfred Tennyson (1808-1892)

- Tennyson stood as the summit of poetry in England. For nearly half a century, he was not only a man, and a poet, but the voice of all people, expressing their doubt and faith, grief and triumphs. In his poetry we find:
  - Dreaminess of Spenser
  - Majesty of Milton
  - The natural simplicity of Wordsworth
  - The fantasy of Blake and Coleridge
  - The melody of Keats and Shelley
  - Narrative vigor of Byron

Only the dramatic power of the Elizabethan Age was lacking. In 'Ulysses' he has taken thesubject of 'hunger heart' for the adventurous life. He writes,

"And this gray spirit yearning in desire, To follow knowledge like a sinking star…"

His poem Locksley Hall (1842) is full of the restless spirit of "young England" and of its faith in science, commerce, and the progress of mankind. In The Princess the poet grapples with one of the rising questions of the day–that of the higher education of women and their place in the fast changing conditions of modern society. *Maud* deals with the patriotic passion of the time of the Crimean War and reflects the mammon worship of the day. It is a mono-drama. *Idylls of the King* deals with medieval machinery. It carries 12 poems. Though he was from an aristocratic family, he was profoundly interested in common

people and common things which we find in his poems like *The May Queen, Enoch Ard*en, *Dora* etc. *Enoch Arden* deals with his theory of love after marriage. In *Crossing the* Bar we find the poets keen desire for the oneness with God where he writes,

"I hope to see my pilot Face to face When I have crost the Bar"

His other poems include *The Lady of Shalott, Break, Break,* Break. However is mainly famous for his *In Memoriam*. It is a collection of 131 poems. It deals with the great conflict of the age between doubt and faith. It is an elegy composed to many short lyrics. It also laments on death of his closest friend Arthur Henry Hallam. He had been awarded with the Chancellor's Medal for his poem *Timbuctoo* at university. In 1850, he became poet-laureateto succeed Wordsworth. His often quoted line is from *Ulysses* ,

"…To strive, to seek, to find and not to yield."

# Robert Browning (1812-1889)

He was the lover of music. His famous poems are *A Toccato of Galuppi, The Last Rider Together, My Last Duchess, Rabbi Ben Ezpa, Fra Lippo Lippa, A Death to the Desert, Men and Women* (a collection of poems) etc. He was the supreme master of the DramaticMononlogue. He was an undying optimist, who said,

"God is in his Heaven, All's right with the world" (Pippa Passes)

# Matthew Arnold (1822-1883)

He is a poet cum critic. His famous poems are *Rugby Chapel, Thyrsis, Scholar Gypsy, Dover Beach, Soharab and Rustam, Shakespeare* (it is a sonnet), etc. *Thyrsis* is a great pastoralelegy and in this poem he mourns the death of his friend, Arthur Clough. Rugby Chapel is also his elegy in which he mourns the death of his father. *However, he is mainly famous for his essay (critical works) like, Culture* and Anarchy, Literature and *Dogma.*

# Arthur Hugh Clough (1819-1961)

He is famous for his poem *The City of Dreadful Night*. It deals with the note of insomnia and nightmarish pessimism. He believed that the appearance of progress was amere illusion.

# Edward Fitzgerald (1809-1888)

He is mainly famous for his verse translation of the Persian Rubaiyat of Omar Khayyam. His pessimism was inherent in his acceptance of the life's purposelessness. His pessimism was the cause of his epictureanism. Wine, women and music were the chief objects of his pleasure in the life as he believed that the life was sort and may end at any moment.

# The Pre-Raphaelite Poets

The Pre-Raphaelite was a movement. It was begun in 1848 by three painters in England including Dante Gabriel Rossetti. It aimed at a return to older principles in painting

but as Rossetti and other followers like William Morris and Suinburne were also gifted writers, they aimed to bring about a change in literary manner as well.

# Major Themes: an Overview

Many of the themes and meanings of Victorian poetry reflect a conflicted sense of self. At once many poems by Robert Browning and Elizabeth Barrett Browning portray a longing for the ideals of the Romantic period in literature but they are stunted it seems by the unique period and its new use of language, the changing and ever-growing economy in the bustling city of London, and of course, the changing views of religion and its place in such a complex world. Through the poems from the Victorian era of both Robert and Elizabeth Barrett Browning and Matthew Arnold, the recurrent themes of shifting religious ideas, language usage, and the economy are clear.

During the long reign of Elizabeth religious dissent was growing and the Church broke off into three distinct branches. This schism was also coupled with the fact that new discoveries were being made, most notably by the controversial theories of Darwin, but by other thinkers as well that argued for a more rational existence. Influenced by the works of Percy and Mary Shelley, Robert Browning already had atheistic ideas and although his feelings dissipated to some degree later in his life, his numerous criticisms of religion are obvious in his poem "Fra Lippo Lippi" in which he tells the tale, in the form of a narrative poem complete with slang and comedy, of a man that was not destined to be in the Church and chooses to heed his more physical impulses instead of conforming to the will of the Church. " Browning seems to be engaging in a dialogue with the Church regarding celibacy—both in the artistic and sexual sense.

The feelings of the poem's narrator in "Fra Lippp Lippi" by Browning can easily be seen as Browning's own critique and while the main theme concerns art, the strict sense in which the church views artistic pursuits and products is similar to the way it requires priests to live celibate lives. While the church's main argument is that art should be presented as something "higher" than the base representation of the human form, this denies the essential humanity of the subject, God's people. Along these same lines, the way the church frowns upon sexual, lustful activity on the part of its clergy by demanding celibacy is exactly the same request as for the artist. Both demands of the church, artistic and sexual are idealized conceptions of how humans should be represented and both, according to the narrator of the poem, are entirely unrealistic and misguided. Through this poem, Browning is arguing against mandatory celibacy for priests and is suggesting, through the story and artistic struggle of Fra Lippo Lippi, that the demands of the church go against human nature.

We are all, to use Browning's word, "beasts" thus prone to the same desires that the church wishes to "rub out". The narrator of this poem from the Victorian period argues that his life in cloister has been unnatural and restraining and bemoans the lack of life he is allowed to experience (although he obviously breaks the rules). The mandatory celibacy is made even more absurd when the Fra point out, "You should not take a fellow eight years old/ And make him swear to never kiss the girls" (224-25). Earlier in the poem, he speaks of this in terms of other boys that had been brought into cloister by openly saying, "Trash, such as these poor devils of Medici/ Have given their hearts to—all at eight years old" (100-101). He seems to see this celibacy as a terrible waste of youth and life—both of which he values above all else. He seeks to represent truth through art, despite the fact that everything in his life is geared towards a completely celibate existence—both in art, sexuality, and life.

The story of his life can be summed up in the simple phrase on line 221, "Rub all out!' Well,

well, there's my life in short." He has been told to extinguish the art and the humanity, thus the keen sexual desire that longs to be free. This goes against human nature—an idea that was taking firm root after the more scientific observations about the self and the natural world and thus religion is represented as the antithesis of all that is natural.

What is most interesting about this religious criticism in the Victorian era as seen in some of its poetry is that there is also a certain yearning for the old days of religious order. For example, in "Sonnets from the Portuguese" Elizabeth Barrett Browning bemoans her loss of faith when she equates her lover as something she cannot quite grasp, something that is far away but familiar, the "lost Saints" that once presided over her world. It is almost a romantic-era poem but in the last stanza, :I love thee freely, as men strive for right; / I love thee purely, as they turn from Praise" (43.8) then goes on… "I love thee with a love I seemed to lose / With my lost Saints" (43.13) and the general tone of the poem indicates that there is something missing and remote about the speaker's existence. She is not quite connected with the world of God and Saints yet she is also not connected with the Romantic ideas from earlier poetry. In true Victorian style she seems unable to extricate religion from the picture, it is something she seems to yearn for, much like a lost or dead lover from glorious days gone by.

The Introduction to Victorian puts it rather succinctly as "All of the Victorian poets show the strong influence of the Romantics, but they cannot sustain the confidence that the Romantics felt in the power of the imagination. Victorians often rewrite poems from the Romantic Movement with a sense of belatedness and distance" (1060). One cannot help but wonder if it is the "religion question" that is perturbing their brilliance or just a melancholy from the fast-paced, industrialized, modern world that had sprung up in this era.

Victorian poetry asks to be read with the ear. Its rhythms and rhymes demand our attention as patterns of sound moving in time. But is the achievement of the Victorian poets a matter or pure sound, or is there substance too? This course explores this contested question (and pursues some surprising answers) by close reading a selection of the most celebrated poets of the age.

Victorian poetry employs every established verse form in the English language and exploits every poetic subgenre, while refining upon some, such as the verse drama and pastoral elegy, and innovating others, such as the dramatic monologue. Newly minted and 'native' forms of the oldest vintage (Anglo-Saxon strong stress and alliterative patternings)

also jostle with antique 'foreign' versification borrowed from Latin, Greek and late medieval French poetry. This course explores some of the poetic, political and philosophical ambitions that animate this prosodic variousness. More specifically, this course explores how and why it is that these diverse poetic forms so often ask to be read with the ear. The rhythms and rhymes of Victorian verse demand our attention as patterns of sound moving in time. But is the achievement of the Victorian poets a matter or pure sound, or is there substance too?

'Fascinated as everybody must be by the music of his verse,' writes John Morley of Swinburne, 'it is doubtful whether part of the effect may not be traced to something like a trick of words and letters'. 'Nay, he will write you a poem with nothing in it except music', worries R H Horne, this time about Tennyson. Such comments are typical of the criticism that emerged in the Victorian period, and the same kinds of comments are still rehearsed by readers and critics today. But is it adequate to suggest that the 'music' of Victorian verse is self-evidently meaningless? We will consider this contested question (and pursue some surprising answers) by close reading a selection of the most celebrated poets of the age.

Five poets will be our primary focus, with a class dedicated to each: Alfred Tennyson; Elizabeth Barrett Browning; Christina Rossetti; Algernon Charles Swinburne; Gerard Manley Hopkins. But three other poets will also be noted along the way: Robert Browning; Arthur Hugh Clough; Matthew Arnold.

Robert Browning, Dante Gabriel Rossetti and his sister Christina Rossetti embraced the transitional nature of Victorian poetry and explored traditional values in unconventional ways. The poems I will examine closely are: Robert Browning's "Porphyria's Lover," Dante Gabriel Rossetti's "The Blessed Damozel," and Christina Rossetti's "Goblin Market." I will provide specific examples from the selected poems that go against Victorian attitudes about sexuality, gender and religion. Victorian England was a society controlled by strict codes of conduct, but even within these confines writers and artists of the age found original ways to talk about divisive subjects. My analysis will include alternative interpretations of the selected poems to further illustrate the complexity of layering and duality in the Victorian era.

Interpreting poetry on multiple levels is difficult for modern readers because singularity and stability are important attributes to modernity. The Victorian era was a time of transition and uncertainty. I have selected poems that exemplify the changing attitudes and expectations of a newly literate public. I will connect these sources in terms of their poetic form as well as the controversial content of each. It is my hope that readers of poetry attempt to gain a sense of each poet's unique biography through close examination of their work combined with a fundamental knowledge of the society at that time. I will use direct quotes from the work as a base and explore possibilities for interpretation by thinking imaginatively about the structure of Victorian society.

Writers were more able to talk about taboo subjects with an ever-growing economy of words and the innovations in print technology created the possibility for a large, diverse reading market. Writers were able to publish wildly imaginative and disturbing pieces that contained multiple and conflicting meanings. I will explore each poet's identity as an "other" within the poetic community and consider imaginative contemporary and modern interpretations. Each of these poets wrote during a time of rapid social and artistic transformation in an era where the means of producing literature were more readily available than they had ever been before.

A popular image during the Victorian period was that of young girls with golden locks. These girls were corrupted by murderous lovers, tempted by forbidden goblin fruits and looked down on lost lovers from heaven in poems of the time. The color and quality of a woman's hair was an indicator of her social station. Fair hair was also a marker for morality because as with all things Victorian, the exterior reflected the interior and appearance said more about you than anything else. The poetry and artwork of the period suggest a preoccupation with women's beauty. Victorian imaginations believed that physical beauty had the power to ensnare a lover; that is evident in the theme of strangulation found in several poems. The fact that the image of golden hair comes up again and again is not a coincidence; everything about the Victorians relied on image and the image of the curious blonde represented Victorian fears of corruption and the loss of innocence.

Browning is often credited with the mastery of the dramatic monologue, a form that allowed him to explore the unique psychologies of his numerous narrators. Browning's exploitation of sexuality through manic narrators directly influenced Dante Gabriel

Rossetti's representation of the Damozel in his unconventional vision of heaven. Rossetti

presents controversial views regarding the duality of the body and soul in his poem, "The Blessed Damozel" and its complementary painting.

The vision of the departed lover seems more substantial than her spirit alone, her body's presence is felt in the weight of her warm bosom and in the splashing of salty tears which are disheartening to a Christian audience who would view existence in heaven far better than life on earth. Both Browning and Rossetti created dramatic monologues with a dead woman at their center. The similarities in imagery further stress the objectification of women. By focusing on dead (or dying) women narrators are able to use them "as objects of desire without fear that their paradoxical dead/alive sexuality could be made operative" (Maynard 552). The male poets I have selected would have been seen as more progressive in their time because the main issue was the treatment of Christianity in their work.

In "Body's Beauty" Rossetti inverts Browning's violent image of Porphyria's strangulation by wrapping the hair around the heart of Lilith's love interest: "Lo! as that youth's eyes burned at thine, so went / Thy spell through him, and left his straight neck bent / And round his heart one strangling golden hair" (Rossetti 12-14). Lilith herself is portrayed as a blonde predator, a femme-fatale whose beauty and vanity shrivels men in her ensnaring web:

*That, ere the snake's, her sweet tongue could deceive,*

*And her enchanted hair was the first gold. And still she sits, young while the earth is old, And, subtly of herself contemplative,*

*Draws men to watch the bright web she can weave,*

*Till heart and beauty and life are in its hold. (Rossetti 3-8)*

The disturbing quality in this poem is that Lilith is animated from the outside in and her outer beauty does not correspond to what lurks underneath. This poem presents yet another less than positive representation of Victorian women.

Christina Rossetti provides a female voice on the subject of religion and offers commentary on the position of women in a male-driven economy in "Goblin Market." The poem is a response to the needs of the "fallen women" of Victorian society and a cautionary tale for daughters of the dangerous Victorian age. Laura, the curious sister, is tempted to "clip a precious golden lock" (Rossetti 126) in order to taste the fruit she desires. Rossetti makes it clear to her audience that even someone who has made a mistake can be redeemed by a righteous person. It is perhaps because Rossetti remains steadfast in her own Christian convictions that readers were able to look past the violence and sexuality brimming from the poem.

Robert Browning, Dante Gabriel Rossetti and Christina Rossetti twisted traditional values such as love and religion slightly to fit into their own poetic world. Browning is the poet whose work was perhaps the least known of the three poets; in his time Browning may have been better known for being the significant other of Elizabeth Barrett Browning.

Browning's narrators often transform women into "alluring objects of desire" which renders them "speechless, unable to speak their culturally confused desire" (Maynard 552).

Interpretations of the violent actions of the narrator in "Porphyria's Lover" range from murder to masturbation. The narrator claims that Porphyria worships him. This gives himthe proof he needs to enact her will to "belong" to him forever.

Browning does more than simply evoke the traditional image of a pure young woman; he murders her: “I found / A think to do, and all her hair / In one long yellow string I wound / Three times her little throat around, / And strangled her” (Browning 37-41). The narrator then proceeds to mention the absence of God and the fact that his deed has gone unpunished: “And thus we sit together now, / And all night long we have not stirred, / And yet God has not said a word” (Browning 58-60). This ending offers commentary on the growing skepticism of religion due to advancements in science and technology in the nineteenth century.

Other possible interpretations of “Porphyria’s Lover” exist in the context of Browning’s contemporaries and our own time. Modern interpretations become apparent when considering the origin of Porphyria’s name, the narcissistic personality of the narrator as well as the nature of a man’s anatomy. The narrator cares only about pleasing himself; a quality that suggests the young and beautiful Porphyria may actually be his own appendage and not a woman. He is able to derive pleasure only on his own terms after the strangling is complete. He must fantasize about a woman (which could be a female projection of himself considering his daunting vanity) in order to achieve orgasm. Given the conservative views of sexuality during the period this poem remains vague enough to offer several distinct possibilities for interpretation.

E. D. H. Johnson teaches a course in Victorian literature at Princeton and discusses the marketability of Victorian poets and explores that ways they were able to push certain boundaries and innovate the forms and content of poetry. Most people consider Victorians obsessed with social conformity but the age was also a time of growth in alternative

literature. Johnson disputes overly simplistic views of Victorian readership by stating thatwriters like Browning had to appeal to a large and diverse reading public:

Browning's conviction that the passionate intensity of romantic love is incompatible with conventional social morality leads him to glorify one at the expense of the other. That perennial theme, the world well lost for love, is so appealing that Victorian readers in their sentimentality were apparently willing to overlook its frequent anti-social corollary in

Browning's poetry, where the decision to give all for love more often than not involves some course of action at variance with established codes of conduct. (Johnson 103).

It is possible to read Browning into some of his narrators while others appear completely insane. This makes Browning innovative in another way, "By motivating the actors in his dramas with his own ideas and impulses, Browning could speak out with

greater originality and boldness than would ever have been possible in his own person"

(Johnson 92). While some of these readers may have considered Browning's deviant themes proof of his own mental instability and "otherness" many recognized a split between

Browning's own beliefs and those of his demented narrators.

Most of Browning's dramatic monologues deal with the conflict between the individual and their environment which is made evident in "Porphyria's Lover" when the

narrator casts his own emotions on his surroundings: "The sullen wind was soon awake, / It tore the elm-tops down for spite, / And did its worst to vex the lake" (Browning 2-4). This mirrors the way the narrator projects his own desires onto the young woman he objectifies. Browning explores the location of power in society and says things through his disturbed characters that he could never say if he wrote exclusively from his own persona. Browning's

poetry was accepted by mainstream Victorian society in a similar way that "sensational" novels were devoured by housewives. Johnson commends Browning for exploring the dark side of love, "a subject which he handles with greater candor and penetration than any other poet of the early and mid-Victorian periods" (Johnson 100). Critics of Browning's abnormal themes and imagery accused him of "contaminating" the poetic world; similarly, Dante Gabriel Rossetti was chastised for blending conventional Christian philosophy with earthly imagery.

The main focus of "The Blessed Damozel" is the duality of the body and soul. His description of the Damozel and his framing of heaven are at odds with traditional Christian views. Rossetti places emphasis on the eyes of his characters which were considered windows to the soul, "The blessed damozel leaned out / From the gold bar of Heaven; / Her eyes were deeper than the depth / Of waters stilled at even" (Rossetti 1-4). This structure (in the poem as well as in the accompanying painting) suggests that Rossetti's intention was for the reader and viewer to consider these scenes occurring simultaneously as well.

Victorians were outraged by the union of the body and soul because they considered themto be separate concerns with more importance resting on the soul.

John Maynard discusses all three poets and their position on sexuality and states that Rossetti's poems "confuse himself as well as his readers with their mixture of religious and sexual language, uncomfortable moving between sensuality and religious epiphany in two directions at once, as if to sacralize sexuality while also sexualizing religion" (Maynard 562). Rossetti's poem exposes a Victorian preoccupation with love and sex in heaven. This fascination proves that while Victorian's didn't always view sexuality in the same way as

modern society does it nonetheless was thinking about sex; even if it was whether or not itwas appropriate when and for whom.

Rossetti's favored the temporal over the everlasting and corrupts traditional Christian views. Rossetti contemplated human existence and found that although it was often disappointing it was possible to "transcend these limitations of the human condition, expressed sometimes as a…longing for the union of lovers" (Howard 196). Death was highly romanticized in the era proceeding the Victorians and so it retained much power in the minds of readers who could identify with the unbearable gap between heaven and earth:

The poem's real success lies in the intersecting dramatic monologues of the speaker and his envisioned damozel, and its real concern is not with a depiction of the Christian heaven, but with the apparently unbridgeable gulf that separated the heavenly maiden andthe earthly lover. (Riede 23)

Readers were able to easily identify with "The Blessed Damozel" due to the narrative quality of the poem. David G. Riede suggests that the dramatic monologues of Robert Browning strongly influenced Rossetti's poem. He points out that even in the earliest versions the poem emphasized human love in opposition to spiritual love and represented a merging of the two worlds momentarily. "The Blessed Damozel" does not try to exploit the Christian view of heaven but attempts to make the Christian imagery more secular so that readers are presented with "a kind of medieval painting with two levels, a heavenly one and an earthly one… Thus the narrator can report two vastly separated but simultaneous scenes" (Howard 44). The revisions of Rossetti's poems show a shift in his personal beliefs as well as an editorial attitude towards his collection of work.

Robert Buchanan was an opponent of Rossetti's work and the "fleshly school of poetry," a term he coined for the Pre-Raphaelites. Riede calls Buchanan's attack "silly in its priggishness" but admits "that Rossetti's overt eroticism claimed for art the right to speak of matters generally under taboo in Victorian society" (Riede 319). Buchanan politicized

Rossetti's work and opened it up for discourse among members of the poetic community. He feared that Rossetti's work would become the "norm" and that all poetry would become infected with "otherness." Rossetti was simply portraying the way he viewed the world, a vision that conflicted with traditional critics like Buchanan who had strict limitations of whatthey would consider art.

"The Blessed Damozel" may be considered the first Pre-Raphaelite poem and is also one of Rossetti's most known works. Unfortunately Buchanan's criticisms had a lasting effect on Rossetti's mental stability and caused a "general decline in the 1870's, but it also clearly established the terms by which Pre-Rapaelite aestheticism challenged Victorian beliefs" (Riede 319). Buchanan's attacks were a failure in because instead of stifling Rossetti and his "fleshly" peers it legitimized their poetry in the realm of art, whether Victorians found it to be distasteful or not.

Christina Rossetti was viewed as much more conventional as a result of her "piety" which "fitted the prevailing belief of the age and made her rather less 'counter-cultural' or avant-garde than her brother and other Pre-Raphaelite poets" (Riede 312). Her fairy tale, "Goblin Market," is contains sexually charged imagery and a blending of religious and economic themes. This "erotic" quality despite clearly religious references in her poems caused her to be "perceived by contemporaries as sharing the Pre-Raphaelite tone and aesthetic values" (Riede 312). Rossetti challenged the status of women in her society and

commented on the shifting position of women within the writing world. She frames her poem in a much different way than her brother by transforming a dark morality tale into a children's story.

As a female poet, Christina Rossetti spoke about issues that had rarely been addressed in poetry, the "highest" form of writing of which men were mostly in control. Society decided what type of writers could contribute and what topics were appropriate in each literary form. When a Victorian woman "leaves her domestic sphere and strives to be a consumer in an area where she lacks bargaining power, *she+ always risks being consumed" (Maxwell 88). Laura consumes the fruit given to her in exchange for her "golden curl" and is nearly consumed by her desire to taste the goblin fruits a second time. Laura's sister Lizzie confronts the goblins and attempts to purchase the fruits with a penny, not for herself but in order to save Laura.

John Maynard has published essays and articles on Christina Rossetti, D. G. Rossetti and Robert Browning, in a section of A Companion to Victorian Poetry. He discusses Christina Rossetti's poem in the context of Victorian's changing attitudes about sexuality and love. Modern readers of "Goblin Market" might be able to substantiate an incestuous or lesbian relationship between the two sisters if they are not careful to analyze the poem in the context of the repressed sexuality of the period which didn't have such terms readily available. Same-sex relationships discussed in Victorian literature were much more open to interpretation due to the lack of labels for such relationships.

Likewise Rossetti herself is often classified as a lesbian by modern readers due to her lack of success in love with the opposite sex. Maynard argues that the violent sexual encounter Lizzie has with the goblin men is the "sexual center of a poem that discards the ordinary sensuous attractions of men and only lightly praises themes of domesticity and procreation at the end" (Maynard 556). As we discussed in class the goblins were considered "others"; creatures outside of respectable Victorian society. In addition to the general fear of the corruption by the "other" came a division between secular and religious interpretations of sexuality.

Religion is emphasized in "Goblin Market" when Laura, a "fallen woman," is"redeemed" by her sister Lizzie, a Christ-like figure. This is illustrated by Christina Rossetti's use of traditional religious imagery in the poem; Lizzie stands "White and golden…Like a lily in a flood" (Rossetti 108-09). She allows herself to be "consumed" by the "others" in order to attain the juices of the fruit to revive her sister. Rossetti ends the tale on a strange note using the distancing device of time to lessen the horror of the goblin attack and to reconcile the sisters in their domestic home life to please Christian readers who are deeply concernedwith Laura's redemption.

It is this Christian overtone that excuses the violent rape of Lizzie by the goblin men. Rossetti frames this social commentary on sexuality within the context of a children's story; a practice that was used frequently in the Victorian era. I was curious as to why Rossetti's

violent “rape” scene wasn’t censored; especially considering it was a work intended for children. Wealthy Victorian children were able to spend much of their leisure time reading. Reading was often considered a dangerous threat to the status quo and a gateway for children to step out of the reality of society and into the realm of their imaginations.

Catherine Maxwell has published several articles on Robert Browning and Christina and Dante Gabriel Rossetti and offers a feminist perspective on Christina Rossetti’s place in the writing world. Her analysis considers the economic and literary marketplace as well as the disadvantages women writers had especially in the area of poetry. Maxwell examines the disadvantages of women in Victorian society through analysis of multiple meanings of “consumption” in “Goblin Market”.

In the Victorian age poetry was still considered “an art for the few, not for the many” (Maynard 558). The few generally still meant wealthy white men but more and more women were daring to cross over into more “serious” literature. This explains why male poets Robert Browning and Dante Gabriel Rossetti were allowed to explore more controversial imagery and themes in their poetry than Christina Rossetti.

Other readers interpret the fruit as not just tempting food but literally “literary produce”. The sisters in the poem as well as the poet must partake of the (male) goblin’s offerings, “male-owned or male-identified texts” (Maxwell 81). Rossetti was one of the earliest successful female poets and so in order to assume her position in the writing world she had to draw upon the works that had come before her in order to tap into the Victorian consciousness. She uses images from works that influenced her and most of those works were written by her male predecessors:

Rossetti’s poem reveals that women cannot enter this tradition on the same footing as men, any more than they can compete with men on equal terms in the mid-Victorian marketplace. Yet is also suggests that female interaction with the male tradition, however complicated and risky, is inevitable. Although the goblins are presented as dangerous creatures to be outwitted and escaped, they also give this poem its motivating energy.(Maxwell 84)

Victorian women are at a disadvantage because they “appear to lack the credentials, the means and authority” for an easy transition into the “literary marketplace” (Maxwell 88). The idea that female poets must “consume” the fruits laid down before them by their male predecessors is only one way in which critics use the term “consumption” to describeRossetti’s commentary on society.

Maxwell discusses “fallen women” in Victorian society in relation to the examples Rossetti constructs in “Goblin Market.” Views of the poem often center around “historical assumptions about the poet’s religious beliefs and gender ideology” (Maxwell 77) as well as our own modern persuasions concerning gender and sexuality. “Goblin Market” is an important text due to its role in establishing a “female tradition” but since that tradition

relies upon the already established “male tradition” Rossetti’s “treatment of the problems of equal exchange between men and women in the mid-Victorian period recognizes the need to explore and transform their relationships with men” (Maxwell 79). The goblin men

may be viewed as simply men or as “others” depending upon the issue being considered. In a way Lizzie and Laura are pioneers that venture to the “marketplace” which is dominated by male influence and can only rely upon each other.

The female body is offered up by the “fallen woman” as an object to be consumed.

There is further symbolism when considering the place of fruit in the Christian creation myth and the role of women in the loss of paradise. When Eve is tempted into eating the “forbidden” fruit she is cast out of Eden, cast out of the economy and like the “fallen woman” is devalued. It is an image that has colored societies perception of females and perhaps the origin of inequality in gender politics. Rossetti gives us a cautionary tale with a twist at the end; two types of women can survive in the marketplace if they work together.

Male poets of the time were becoming mindful of the change in representations of gender and sexuality and used controversial images to shock religious audiences. When

viewing “Porphyria’s Lover” in a modern context it is easy to produce “sexist” interpretations as a result of the “objectification” of women. It is essential that readers limit their inherently modern perspectives of gender roles and remain open to multiple layers of meaning. Ethnocentric readings of works are not helpful for gaining an understanding of that work’s relevance during the time it was written. All of the poets I discussed used themes and imagery that were at odds with strong artistic guidelines that existed during theVictorian era.

Readers of poetry must keep the time in which the work was written ever-present in their minds because the meanings of words, images and themes can drastically change over time. Victorians were preoccupied with time: leisure time, time travel, daily routines that operated within strict social structures. Browning’s narrator wanted to possess Porphyria’s undying love forever so he kills her in a moment of perfection. Dante Gabriel Rossetti examines the gap between the spiritual and physical realm and the bridge that separates time on earth from eternity in heaven. He also hints at established social customs surrounding death and exposes Victorian’s wishes to travel to a better place, be it heaven or a faraway fantasy world. Christina Rossetti shows how unhealthy obsessions can destroy a life in a short amount of time and how distance can make even a horrible reality a good opportunity for a didactic lesson. It is this preoccupation with time that gives a new profound meaning to youth and an obsessive fear of death which began in the Victorian eraand has developed further in our own age.

Victorians were well on their way to modern ways with innovations in technology and ever-increasing disparities between social classes. Several distinctions are clear immediately: their dress, their working conditions and requirements, their speech, their looks and their reading material. Women and children were most targeted as readers of “lower quality” material while “high arts” were male oriented. Women assumed new

roles in society as both the “objects” of male desires and the writers of their own fantasies.

Modern perspectives of sexuality allow us to project terms like masturbation and lesbianismonto the text even before the terms for those behaviors were coined.

Culture was changing in the Victorian era and its technologies were solidifying and standardizing its language and customs at an alarming rate. We are provided with images from the period, some of which reinforce the stereotypes we have long since associated with Victorians and those that paint a different picture. The women in the poems and paintings may seem one-dimensional but women themselves began to formulate their own opinions, assert their own beliefs and write their own fairytales where they can redeem themselves instead of waiting for a “prince” to do it for them. Women’s view of themselves was not perfect and society still presented unrealistic and distorted images of what girls and women could be, but so does every age, including our own.

Our interpretations of Victorian work is just that, our own thoughts projected on the textual evidence. While I have presented numerous approaches to each poem “None can assure us that we are really getting beyond our own discourses and obsessions and finding Victorian life or poetry as it truly was” (Maynard 543-66). History is one groups interpretation of textual evidence transmitted over a certain period of time and history has the ability to change depending on who is telling it. I have thought imaginatively about the physical poems, the actual evidence and interpreted their meaning by comparing my personal understanding with that of knowledgeable and not so knowledgeable critics who reflect their own times in their positions.

# Study Questions

- “Victorian poetry demonstrates a clear break with the optimistic pantheism of theRomantics.” Do you agree?
- Is Victorian poetry, in your view, "essentially neo-Romantic" poetry? Answer withreference to the work of TWO such poets.
- Would you agree that “satire enjoys a resurgence in Victorian poetry”? Answer with reference to the work of TWO of the following poets: Tennyson, Robert Browning, Arnold, Hardy, and Hopkins.
- "A harbinger of Modernism? More likely the last hurrah of Romanticism." Do you

agree with this assessment of Hopkins’ poetry?

- Does the adjective ‘Victorian’ denote a distinctive kind of poetry? Answer with reference to the work of ONE Romantic poet and ONE of the following poets: Tennyson, Browning, Arnold, Hardy.
- With close reference to the work of TWO Victorian poets, critically assess therepresentation of the black and/or female voice in poetry.
- Consider the dialectic of tradition and innovation in Victorian poetry with

referenceto the work of two of the following poets:

o Tennyson, Robert Browning, Hopkins.

- "Are God and Nature then at strife?" Tennyson asks. To what degree does In Memoriam constitute a profound questioning of Wordsworth's optimistic pantheism?
- Compare Robert Browning's use of the dramatic monologue with Coleridge's achievement in his so-called 'conversation poems.'
- "His poetry oscillates in an almost Blakean way between the optimism that accompanies innocence and a pessimism that is the product of experience." Discuss this assessment of Hopkins's poetry.
- Literary historians often draw a clear line between the Romantic and Victorian periods. Referring closely to the work of one Victorian poet which you have studied, show how such a clear-cut distinction may be questioned.
- "A moving personal record of Tennyson's psychological recovery from grief and the regeneration of his religious faith." Do you agree with this assessment of In Memoriam?
- Examine Browning's use of the dramatic monologue.

*My Last Duchess* Analysis

That's my last Duchess painted on the wall,
Looking as if she were alive. I call
That piece a wonder, now: Frà Pandolf's hands
Worked busily a day, and there she stands.
Will 't please you sit and look at her? I said
'Frà Pandolf' by design, for never read
Strangers like you that pictured countenance,
The depth and passion of its earnest glance,
But to myself they turned (since none puts by
The curtain I have drawn for you, but I)
And seemed as they would ask me, if they durst,
How such a glance came there; so, not the first
Are you to turn and ask thus. Sir, 't was not
Her husband's presence only, called that spot
Of joy into the Duchess' cheek: perhaps

*My Last Duchess* opens up with the speaker asking a listener if he would please sit down and look at a portrait of his last Duchess. This makes the readers wonder why this Duchess is no longer his present Duchess. He does not reveal whether she is deceased or put away in a convent somewhere.

He asks his listener to sit and look at the life-sized painting of her. He reveals that this painting is behind a curtain and that no one but he is allowed to draw the curtain to view the painting or to show it to anyone. This is very suspicious behavior. The reader can immediately sense that the Duke is controlling. The question that still remains unanswered is, why is this his *last* Duchess?

The Duke describes the look on the Duchess' face, and that she had a joyous look and an earnest glance. He notes that "twas not her husband's presence only called that spot of joy into the Duchess' cheek". This is a curious thing to say. Why would he expect that his presence alone, and nothing else, would bring joy to her face? He does not answer that question, but the fact that he notes this gives a little bit of insight into why he was the only one who was allowed to open the curtain.

All along, he wanted to be the only one who would bring a look of joy to his Duchess' face. Now that she was put away somewhere, and her life-size painting was on the wall, he could be the only one to ever see that look of joy on her face, because he would allow no one else to look at the painting without his permission. Suddenly, our speaker seems somewhat psychotic.

Frà Pandolf chanced to say, ‘Her mantle laps
Over my lady’s wrist too much,’ or ‘Paint
Must never hope to reproduce the faint
Half-flush that dies along her throat:’ such stuff
Was courtesy, she thought, and cause enough
For calling up that spot of joy. She had
A heart—how shall I say?—too soon made glad,
Too easily impressed; she liked whate’er
She looked on, and her looks went everywhere.

In this section of *My Last Duchess*, the Duke seems to be remembering his former Duchess and all that bothered him about her. It would seem that she was too easily pleased by everyone around her. The Duke was not happy with this. He didn’t like that if someone like “Fra Pandolf” (we don’t know much more about this character) were to tell her that her shawl covered her wrists too much, she would blush.

The Duke did not like that she would blush at the flirtations of another man. He did not like that the things which he called common courtesy would “call up that spot of joy” which she seemed to always have on her face. The Duke accuses her of having a heart that was “too soon made glad” and “too easily impressed”. He was annoyed that she liked everything that she looked at. This man seems more and more psychotic and controlling as *My Last Duchess* goes on. It would seem that he put away his Duchess because he could not control her feelings. He wanted to be the only one to bring her joy and make her blush.

Sir, ‘t was all one! My favour at her breast,
The dropping of the daylight in the West,
The bough of cherries some officious fool
Broke in the orchard for her, the white mule
She rode with round the terrace—all and each
Would draw from her alike the approving speech,
Or blush, at least. She thanked men,—good! but thanked
Somehow—I know not how—as if she ranked
My gift of a nine-hundred-years-old name
With anybody’s gift. Who’d stoop to blame
This sort of trifling?

In these lines of *My Last Duchess*, the Duke continues to explain all of the flaws in the Duchess’ character. He says that she values her white mule, a branch of cherries, and sunset as much as she values a piece of jewelry that he had given her. He is irritated that she does not seem to see the value in what he gives to her, or that she seems to value the simple pleasures of life as much as she values his expensive gifts to her. He also seems irritated that she does not seem to understand the importance of his place in life.

By marrying her, he had given her a “nine-hundred-years-old name”. This reveals that his family had been around for a very long time and thus he gave her a well-known and prestigious name in marrying her. She did not seem to be any more thankful for this than she was thankful to watch the sunset. This irritated the Duke so much that was not even willing to “stoop” to her level to discuss it with her. He thinks it would be “trifling” to do so.

Even had you skill
In speech—(which I have not)—to make your will
Quite clear to such an one, and say, ‘Just this
Or that in you disgusts me; here you miss,
Or there exceed the mark’—and if she let
Herself be lessoned so, nor plainly set
Her wits to yours, forsooth, and made excuse,
—E’en then would be some stooping; and I choose
Never to stoop. Oh, sir, she smiled, no doubt,
Whene’er I passed her; but who passed without
Much the same smile? This grew; I gave commands;
Then all smiles stopped together. There she stands
As if alive. Will ‘t please you rise? We’ll meet

The Duke continues to explain that he chooses never to stoop to discuss with his Duchess what made him so disgusted with her. Yet, he seems quite comfortable discussing it with this listener. Perhaps he thought himself too high and mighty to stoop to talk to a woman, even if that woman was his wife. He admitted that she smiled at him pleasantly when he passed by, but it bothered him that everyone received that same smile from her. He explained that he “gave commands” and “then all smiles stopped together”. This causes the reader to feel sorry for the Duchess, and rightly so.

She was a lovely, happy, smiling person. It seems that the Duke commanded her in such a way as to make her stop smiling altogether. He robbed her of her joy with his controlling attitude toward her. After explaining what happened when he commanded her, the Duke turns his attention back to the painting on the wall and says, “there she stands as if alive”. This suggests that the real Duchess is no longer alive. The Duke seems happier with a painting of her because he can control who gets to look at the joy in her face. The Duke then invites his listener to return downstairs with him.

The company below then. I repeat,
The Count your master’s known munificence
Is ample warrant that no just pretence
Of mine for dowry will be disallowed;
Though his fair daughter’s self, as I avowed

At starting, is my object. Nay, we'll go
Together down, sir. Notice Neptune, though,
Taming a sea-horse, thought a rarity,
Which Claus of Innsbruck cast in bronze for me!

This section of *My Last Duchess* reveals the identity of the Duke's listener. He is the servant of a Count in the land, and they are trying to arrange a marriage between the Duke and the Count's daughter. The Duke says that his "fair daughter" is his "object". He brings the man back downstairs with him, and as they walk, he points out the bronze statue that was made especially for him.

The statue is of Neptune taming a sea horse. Neptune, of course, is the god of the sea. This symbolizes the Duke, and the sea horse symbolizes any Duchess he would acquire. The Duke views himself as a god, and he wishes to tame his wife to do whatever he wishes her to do, and even to feel whatever he wishes her to feel. This man is clearly demented and controlling, and the speaker in *My Last Duchess* reveals Browning's ideas of his fellow men

**INTRODUCTION AND APPRECIATION**

The Date of Publication: The Career of Andrea

Andrea Del Sarto was first published in the volume of Browning's poems entitled Men and Women, 1855. Andrea Del Sarto (the son of a tailor) was a great painter of the Florentine School. Browning's poem was inspired by a picture of Andreȧ and his wife, Lucrezia, hung in the art-gallery of Pitti Palace, Florence. For the facts of the painter's life, Browning is indebted to his biography from the pen of his pupil Vasari. According to Vasari's account, the great painter, "faultless but soulless' was born in 1486, in Florence. Early in life he fell in love with Lucrezia, the wife of a hatter. She was a woman of rare beauty, but frivolous and faithless. On the death of her first husband, Andrea married her, and continued to love her even though he knew that she was unfaithful to him. For her sake, he played false to the king of France, Francis I, embezzled his money, as well as neglected his parents and allowed them to die of starvation. This faithless women ultimately deserted him. Andrea died of plague in 1530, at the age of forty-three. Lucrezia married a third time after his death. Such are the bare facts of Andrea's life, but as Berdoe tells us, the poet has mixed these facts, "with his thoughts and has transfigured them, so that the sad, and infinitely pathetic soul, in its stunted growth and wasted form, lives before us in Browning's lines."

As a Dramatic Monologue: Its Distinctive Features

Andrea Del Sarto is one of the greatest of the dramatic monologues of Browning. It differs from his other monologues in a number of important respects. Unlike the other monologues, it does not grow out of a critical situation; rather, it presents a slice from the great painter's life. While the other monologues of the poet deal with

the exalting and ennobling influence of love, this monologue tells us of the degrading and disintegrating effect of love on the great painter's soul. The painter is shown in a reflective mood, and as he muses over his failure in art, his very soul is laid bare before the readers. His thoughts range over the past and the present, and in this way is revealed the complete tragedy of a soul. The setting is the painter's studio Florence and, "the silver grey", of an autumn evening. Lucrezia is both the interlocutor and the listener, and in the background stand such minor figures. as, "the cousin", and the French king and the French nobles. It is a remarkable piece of character-study, and the characters both of Andrea and Lucrezia have been well brought out. Just as, 'Abt Vogler' is his greatest music-poem, so this is his greatest art-poem, and both are unique". (Berdoe) The Character of Andrea: His Failure

The Monologue tells the pathetic tale of the moral and artistic failure of a talented painter, “faultless", in execution, but devoid of any lofty purpose in his life or art. The use of the word "faultless" is ironical, for no art can be called perfect, which does not have spiritual beauty. The true artist is he who has lofty ideals to inspire him, and whose execution is necessarily imperfect, as it can never attain the height of his ideal. The artist, whose execution is perfect and faultless, but lacks "soul", must needs be an inferior artist: he might be a great craftsman, but he can never be ranked with supreme artists like Raphael or Michael Angelo who, no doubt, committed technical mistakes in their pictures, but whose ideal was always pitched high, and whose art is expressive of, "the divine discontent", within their souls. Andrea aims low, achieves his ideal, and knows that the grayness of complacency has fallen over his art and so sighs:

Ah, but a man's reach should exceed his grasp, Or what's Heaven for?

The Character of Lucrezia: The Cause of His Failure

The tragedy of Andrea is that he has no "loftiness of ideal," though in point of workmanship he is simply faultless. "This innate defect in Andrea, Browning further represents as increased by the influence of his wife, Lucrezia, whom he pictures as not merely unprincipled, but heartless and shallow, quite incapable of appreciating any, but the lowest and most material aspects of life." Andrea is infatuated with her, and in order to please her, he embezzles the money given to him by his patron, King Francis I of France, for buying pictures. He is guilty of a far worse crime in neglecting his aged father and mother and leaving them to die of starvation. So great is his infatuation with his wife, that he dotes upon her even though he knows that she does not love him, and is unfaithful to him.

The Setting

Andrea paints pictures for her sake alone. She works as the "model" for his pictures, and he gives the money so earned to her so that she might discharge the debts of her lover. It is she whom Andrea addresses in the monologue. She has been urging him to paint a picture for a rich friend of one of her lovers. Andrea asks her to

sit down by his side for half-an hour that evening as married people do, and next morning he would satisfy the friend of her lover. The place is his studio in the house built with king Francis' money. On the walls hang pictures done by Andrea, as well as a copy of a work of Raphael, which exhibits that loftiness of purpose which Andrea lacks, as well as that defective execution which marks the works of the great Madonna (the portrait of Virgin Mary) there is a mistake in outline or colour? His work has spiritual beauty, the fire of inspiration, while his own work is all silver-grey; there is nothing of Heaven in it. The picture of Rafael, which kings and popes have applauded, is by no means perfect in execution. He has put the arm wrongly, but "the soul is right".

He can better the drawing of the arm, but he cannot have his insight and inspiration. If Lucrezia had loved him and inspired him, he would have attained to Rafael's heights. If, with her perfect beauty and low, ensnaring voice, she had brought an equally noble mind, and urged him to paint, not for gain, but for, "God and the Glory," he would have ranked with painters life Rafael and Michael Angelo. But it is no use to regret for what is past and gone. He must not blame her. "All is as God overrules." Besides, Rafael and Angelo had no wives, and yet they could put soul into their works. This shows that true inspiration comes from within.

God compensates and punishes adequately everyone at the end, and it is better that he has not received his reward in this world. God will reward him in the life to come. He can now look forward to heaven with hope and confidence, Thus Andrea becomes the spokesman of Browning's philosophy. Continuing in a mode of reflection, he says that he avoids meeting the French lords, because he embezzled the money of the French king. The time he passed in France was a glorious time. King Francis encouraged him. All that year at Fontainebleau, he was so inspired by his humanity and generosity, and the sweet memory of his wife, that he could sometimes leave the ground. and rise to Heaven.

But that life palled on him, it was golden and not grey, and Lucrezia, too, grew restless and when she called him away from France, he came at her call. That was her real triumph; he could get her love even though he did not get recognition as a painter. Therefore, he does not regret his failure. He would very much like to paint a portrait of Virgin Mary, with his wife serving as his model. People will compare Rafael's painting to his and would prefer him (Rafael), but they will excuse him, when they will come to know that the Virgin in his picture was painted after his own wife, while Rafael had no such wife as his model. They would realise that it was his wife who dragged him down.

In order to impress her further with his skill, he tells her that once Angelo said to Rafael, while the latter was in the prime of his powers, that there was, "a sorry little scrub", in Florence who, if encouraged and inspired by Popes and Kings in the way Rafael was, would prove a formidable rival to him. The reference, of course, was to Andrea himself. He can improve easily that arm of the Madonna of Rafael, but there

is not that soul in him that there was in Rafael. He had a chance to become another Rafael during his stay with the French king. But he has lost that chance. But what matters to him is whether Lucrezia is pleased or not, for it was for her that he had thrown away the golden chance of his life. All he wanted was only such an hour as this, such a smile as hers at that moment. Refreshed in this way, he could paint better, get more money and then give it all to her.

money she needs in exchange for her smiles.  Ouses how well he would

Andrea wants to keep her to himself for sometime more, but she is impatient to go to her cousin waiting outside for a private meeting with her. Perhaps, she wants money to pay his debts, and perhaps she wants to take that money from him with her smiles. By all means, he is ready to give her the he her to sit with him for the remainder of that evening, while he muses paint, if he were again called to France. He would paint a Madonna, but not with Lucrezia as his model. Then he should be properly judged in his art. Tomorrow, the portrait her friends need will be ready for sale to bring him money. She can then pay off the debts of her lover, and also have the money she requires for herself. He has been trying so much to please her, but with no success. What more does that cousin do, so that she is more pleased with him?

The past comes to Andrea's memory as it would to an old man's. He realises full well that he sinned in embezzling the money of Francis. He was also guilty of letting his parents die of want, but he justifies his conduct saying that, that was their lot; he, too, has suffered from lack of means. Everyone must bear his lot in this world. So great is his degradation, and so great is his infatuation, that he tells Lucrezia that it is sufficient compensation for him that she has spared sometime for him that evening. That is all he wants on earth. In Heaven, he might get a chance and paint again with great artists, like Leonardo, Michael Angelo and Rafael. But he would still have her as his wife (they three being wifeless) and so he would still be dragged down by her. Even then, he would prefer to have her there also. So great is his love for her.

At this moment, the cousin (the lover) of Lucrezia whistles again. Perhaps his whistling is more urgent than before, and so Andrea permits her to leave him and go to him.

Browning's Philosophy: Note of Optimism

The remarkable monologue is not only an admirable piece of character- study, it also embodies Browning's philosophy. It brings out the poet's optimism, his faith in God, and in the immortality of the human soul. It also throws light on his theory of art. Artistic greatness is not merely a matter of technical perfection; it must also be expressive of the urge within the artist's soul for the ideal and the unattainable. A great artist must pitch his ideals high, and the ideal must always elude his grasp. Attainment and satisfaction result in complacency; then there is no longer that "ceaseless striving" which is the secret of all great art, with the result that a placid

greyness overtakes the works of such artists. This was the tragedy of Andrea. He achieved technical perfection and so lacked the inner urge for greater achievement. His art lacked, 'soul', the fire and glow of passion and inspiration, and so must be ranked inferior to the art of Rafael and Angelo, painters who were far his inferiors in technical excellence.

Style: Syntax

The Monologue is characterised by lucidity and clarity of style. It is entirely free from the usual faults of Browning. There is no obscurity. Specially noteworthy is the symbolic use of colour words. Thus the words, 'grey', 'silvery grey', etc., have been used to symbolise the greyness of Andrea's art and life. It has neither the 'glow', and, 'gold', the brilliance of inspiration and passion, nor does it have the darkness of failure and complete despair. It lies in-between; its colour is, 'gray', or the dull shades of twilight. These colour words symbolise the spiritual enervation and exhaustion of Andrea.

**Gerard Manly Hopkins**

Gerard Manly Hopkins has a distinct place in the world of English poetry. He belongs to the Victorian era which produced same great poets like Robert browning and Alfred Lord Tennyson. Victorian period witnessed considerable spread of education, scientific advancement and industrial growth and religious and spiritual values were questioned. The conflict between religious vs. science predominantly finds place in Victorian poetry. Hopkins, as a true believer in almighty and as stanch Christian wrote spiritual poetry. He hails from a cultured and aristocratic family and influenced by the ideals of John Henry Newman he became an active member of Roman Catholic Church. Hopkins as a priest carried out his duties of teachings and preaches in different places of England. He led a life of true Christian and proved to be a role model. He took to writing poetry in the year 1875.

Hopkins poetic talent lies in technical innovation. His poetry exists in the language and it’s full of dynamic energy. They reflect Hopkins faith in beauty and power of God. At the same time one finds in his poems, skepticism on account of personal disgust. Hopkins experimented with the words and connects new words such as Inscape and Instress. Some of his popular collections are Sprung, Moonrise and The Sea and the Skylark.

**The Windhover**

Hopkins’s Wind hover is an untraditional sonnet where in the poet depicts the beautiful and splendid flight and movements of the Windhover. He describes his own delightful experience of witnessing the bird and capturing its sheer beauty. The first eleven lines of the poem provide the birds’ description and the poets’ response. Hopkin employs suitable and appealing similies to present the birds pausing and racing. The

bird is compared to morning minion and prince of daylight. In Hopkins opinion everything about the birds is majestic, graceful and aggressive. He is amazed on seeing the balancing act of the bird while catching its prey. Hopkins admires the care and caution of the bird during its flight and compares it to a skater and a horse rider, who keep the hold in that while engaged in their respective activities.

Hopkins proceeds to praise the mastery of the bird and feels great about its deep sense of admiration is clear from the following lines.

My heart in hiding

Stirred for a bird the archive of

the mastery of the thing.

In fact Hopkins uses his verbal mastery to express his fascination and adoration for the bird. In his view it is a unique combination of beauty and velour. The sight of the bird is quite scintillating and bright and the poet observes the fire in its movements. Here the bird becomes a symbol of perfection, beauty and Passion. In the last six lines of the poem, Hopkins glorifies the Christ his beloved Lord, whose power and glory is one thousand million times (one billion.) greater than the bird. Originally the poem is a sort of thanksgiving to Jesus Christ for all the beautiful and lovely thins that he has bestowed on humanity.

When Hopkins thinks of his Lord, The glory of the bird shrinks in size and dwindles. The term used by the poet Chevalier is a reference to jerms who demonstrated self sacrifice and purified this earth. Hopkins refers to the crucification of Christ and describes his pain and agony for the welfare and future of mankind, the wounds inflicted on the Christ especially the cut on his face which is bright and red in color is more heart rendering. Hopkins tries to convey that the flight of the bird is beyond doubt glorious but what is more glories is Christ's velour, sacrifice and will whose worth value is immeasurable and inexplicable.

The following lines suggest Hopkins true devotion and dedication for Christ.

A billion times told lovelier,

more dangerous, o my Christ.

Hopkins loves beauty and creation but his love for the creator is stronger and deeper. The wind hover is considered to be a semi romantic religious poem. The special charm of the poem lies in the use of words and alliteration.

**Sprung Rhythm**

A metrical system devised by Gerard Manley Hopkins composed of one- to four-syllable feet that start with a stressed syllable. The **spondee** replaces the **iamb** as a dominant measure, and the number of unstressed syllables varies considerably from line to line (see also accentual verse). According to Hopkins, its intended effect was to reflect the dynamic quality and variations of common speech, in contrast to the monotony of iambic pentameter. His own poetry illustrates its use; though there have been few imitators, the spirit and principles of sprung rhythm influenced the rise of free verse in the early 20th century.

**THE WRECK OF THE DEUTSCHLAND**

Some years ago Roy Fuller, a british poet, made the interesting discovery, that the letters in the name of Gerard Manley Hopkins' could be rearranged to form the anagram, "NearlyHard poems King" Deutschland" is admittedly Hopkins's hardest poem. That is the chief reason for holding it on till nov Many readers of Hopkins's poetry perhaps would be tempted to agree with Fuller. "The Wreck of th in discussing Hopkins's poems, so that understanding his other and shorter poems would enable us t approach this poem with better confidence. It is some consolation to us that some of the best critics o Hopkins have admitted that the poem is not only difficult but sometimes appears to be baffling.

Rober Bridges, Hopkins's most faithful friend and honest editor of his poems, felt it necessary to caution th prospective readers of his friend's poems that "The wreck of the Deutschland" (Which is placed first in all editions of his mature poems) stands as 'a great dragon folded in the gate to forbid all entrance" Some admiring critics of Hopkins noteworthily F.R. Leaves, have taken Bridges to task for making wha they regard as uncritical remarks on Hopkins's poems as well as his poetic practice. They even tend t question his honesty and his competence to comment upon his friend's poems. In fairness to Bridges i must be admitted that Hopkins could not have found a more devoted friend and honest editor than him Few could have preserved the manuscripts of Hopkins poems with such scrupulous care as he did, in spit of having some honest reservations about his friend's innovations and idiosyncracies in the language metre, rhythm and form of poetry. The fact is that Bridges held a different view of the poet's craft Whatever may be his limitations as a judge of Hopkins's poetry and art, he cannot be accused of being dishonest.

In describing "The Wreck of the Deutschland" as a " dragon' Bridges was only giving expression t his extreme nervousness about it, althouth he did made attempts to read it and come to term with it. I was not only Bridges but Fr. Coleridge (editor of the Jesuit periodical the month to which Hopkin submitted the poet for publication). Among the first few readers of the poem who was perplexed and foun it formidable. Hopkins seems to have tried to read parts of it to a fellow Jesuit called Fr. Barraud, witl no success whatsoever. Later in 1919 in an article Fr. Barraud confessed that he "could understan hardly one line of it". Alluding to Bridge's description of the poem as a

dragon in the gate", N.H Mackenzic has wittily remarked that it is a dragon in the sense that it is a guardian of rich treasure.

I some myths and legends the dragon is regarded thus. Be that as it may, the difficulties and obscuritie of the poem are very real and considerable. In spite of several detailed and illuminating commentarie on it, some obscurities and ambiguities still remain unresolved. But it is commonsense not to exaggerat them. However, real effort on our part, and help from knowledgeable critics are necessary to understan the poem. Many a modern classic, The waste land of T.S. Eliot for an example, requires a similar effort It is certainly worthwhile to make it and it is bound to be rewarding. There is a great deal to be said try to make friends with such " difficult" classics.

Deutschland" for an understanding of Hopkins and his work. Its importance is several fold. First, with Several important critics of Hopkins have stressed the absolute importance of " The Wreck of th this poem, Hopkins, who had solemnly avowed and elected poetic silence for life in 1868, to which he ha heroically adhered for seven long years, became articulate again. His poetic muse having beel unchained, and his self-imposed ban on writing poetry lifted now, he was launched on his career as mature poet (what made him lift this - selfimposed ban, we shall see shortly). This is his most ambitiou

performance, his first major poem as well as his longest. Although for several years he had virtually not written any poetry at all, it is amazing that there is nothing tentative or hesitant about "The Wreck of the Deutschland". On the contrary there is an extraordinary sureness and self assurance in every respect about it. Neither the poems Hopkins wrote before he embarked on poetic silence, nor the jottings and entries he made from time to time in his journals on different aspects of nature during the years, when he was a silent poet, have anything in them to prepare us or make us look forward to a poem of such tremendous power, energy and emotional charge as this.

There is another significant feature of "The Wreck of the Deutschland", which makes it particularly important for understanding Hopkins and his work. All his favourite themes expressed in his other poems and some of his prose writings are already present in this poem, some of them developed and others as germs: God, man, nature, Christ and his great Sacrifice, martyrdom, and as we shall see, some of the stanzas even anticipate the spiritual distress and agony presented in the so-called' terrible' poems. That is, this poem contains within it, facets of all of Hopkins's mature poetry. Anhence Philpage says that it may be regarded as the our-poem or original unity which implies the themes of all other poems and of which other poems are divisions and repetitions". On reading this densely packed poem with attention, one gets the impression, in view of Hopkins's earlier vow to remain a silent poet which ofcourse he was breaking now, that he was trying to put into the poem all that he had and wished to say so that he may not wish for another opportunity for poetic utterance.

In terms of poetic techinique too this peom is an astounding performance. It is Hopkins's first and most elaborate attempt to realise his innovative ideas about the language, form metre and rhythm of poetry which were radically different from those held by many poets of his day. The entire poem is written in a new percussive stress rhythm of his invention for which he gave the name "sprung rhythm".. And the elaborate stanza form used in it is also of his own devising, consistent with and appropriate to the complex of thought, emotion and feeling expressed in it. As John Press has said Hopkins "turned to sprung rhythm intuitively, driven to seek it by his imperious need of a metre capable of bearing the intensity, the weight, the full accuracy of what he had to say". Similarly with regard to the language and idiom of poetry, syntax, and different aspects of poetic technique.

He found it imperative to forge for himself a verbal medium, particularly at the time of writing "The Wreck of the Deustchland", by breaking away from the current poetic language, especially the Tennysonian kind of smooth and jewelled idiom, and by violating normal rules of syntax, because he felt that they were far from adequate to convey the urgency of his responses, and to articulate his distinctive aesthetic and spiritual, sensual and intellectual experiences which embodied his vision of nature, man, and God. Therefore taking risks with the English language, he drew upon all of his verbal resources including learned words, spoken and colloquial words, and even archaic ones. He invented new words, particularly a number of compound adjectives, and employed muscular words and those which denoted strongly-defined physical action. (He admired the poet John Dryden for his gift to use the naked thew and sinew of the English language).

In the interests of compression he sometimes omitted relative pronouns and other minor parts of speech. He deviated from the normal word order and made a complex use of such devices as end-rhyme, internal rhyme, word-pay, alliteration and assonance for the sake of greater emphasis. All these devices are used in his study of Shakespeare, Milton, the Greek tragedians, and Welsh poetry. It should always be by Hopkins in "The Wreck of the Deutschland". He did discover hints and precedents for some of them remembered that Hopkins's several innovations, for which he was praised and admired as a "revolution: of his aesthetic and emotional needs. He never made the mistake of separating manner and matter, ary" by the poets of the 1930's, were primarily necessitated by, not any love of novelty but the compulsion form and content of poetry from each other.

The immediate occasion for Hopkins to write "The Wreck of Deutschland", was the wreck of a German steamship called the Deutschland at the Kentish Knock (a shifting submerged sand bank) in the mouth of the Thames in England between the night of the 6th and the morning of 7th of December, 1875, as it was caught in a thick blinding snow storm and violent north east gale and was driven into the sand bank in the darkness. In this disaster five nuns belonging to the Franciscan order, who had been expelled and exiled from Germany, their homeland under the anti-Catholic laws called the Falk Laws, were drowned. These nuns were on their way to Canada by way of

America in search of new home for themselves: In this tragedy off the English coast about 64 lives in all were lost out of a little more than 200 people on board the ship. (How many people were on board the ship - when it was wrecked, it has not been possible to establish positively). Hopkins, who was at St. Beuno's College in Wales as a spiritual novice at that time, was deeply affected by this incident, and happened to say so to Fr. James Jones, the Rector of the College, who there upon "said that he wished someone would write a poem on the subject". On the strength of his suggestion, Hopkins, who regarded it as permission granted to him unasked for to write poetry, felt himself relieved of the self-imposed obligation of poetic silence, and set himself to work on a poem on the wreck of the German ship, and in about six months completed writing it. What was begun as an experiment became a great accomplishment.

It may seem rather surprising to us that Hopkins should have been so much moved by this wreck as to upon the solemn vow of poetic silence he had made for life, to write a poem about it. We go back may be quite sure that he would not have hazarded this step if he did not have compelling reasons. To us of the present day the wreck of the Deutschland does not appear to be an earthshaking disaster at all. Not a day passes without the newspapers reporting disasters of far greater magnitude on land and air. What is more, even in Hopkins's own time, it was not an exceptional tragedy, as there were other disasters on land and sea, far worse than that of the Deutschland, about which he knew. In 1870 in the wreck of the steamship "The Captain" about 520 people had died Just a month before the "Deutschland" was wrecked, another, ship called "The Pacific". was wrecked taking a toll of 150 lives. And on the very day the Deutschland was capsized, in a coal-mining disaster in England 150 lives were lost. Acutely sensitive though Hopkins always was to human suffering, he was not moved enough by these and other tragic incidents to break a vow to write poems about them.

Therefore it becomes necessary for us to inquire why this apparently ordinary wreck of the German ship made such an extraordinary impression on him as to make him choose it as theme of his Fransciscan nuns, Some of the reasons for its appeal to Hopkins are obvious. First and foremost was the fact that five ,his fellow religionists who had been exiled from their home had died in it. Not only Hopkins but the entire Catholic community in England was deeply touched by it, and as a Catholic he too shared the feelings of the community. How important it was for them can be measured by the fact that Cordinal Manning himself gave the funeral oration when the nuns were buried at St. Patricks's Cemetray in Laytonstone, very close to Hopkins's birth place. According to the reports of the survivors, all the nuns showed extraordinary courage in the teeth of danger and death. Not only did they refuse

protection extended and to them but wanted the life-boats offered to them to be used to save other helpless women and children on board the fated ship. Till the last they spoke words of courage to their fellow passengers, and as for themselves they spent their time in prayer, and stood clasping their hands together when they were drowned. This heroism is in itself enough to rouse one's admiration. In fact the hearts of the English people in general, Catholics and Protestants alike, were stirred by the

courage of the nuns in facing danger, suffering, and death. In thousands they were present at their funeral. To add a touch of the miraculous to the death of the nuns, when the lids of the coffins were lifted, these was on disfigurement of their lifeless forms. All these were extensivly reported in The Times, the Illustrated London News and such newspapers of the day.

Over and above all these facts which naturally appealed to Hopkins, there was, yet another fact which held himspell-bound And that was what according to him, the uniquely heroic conduct of one of the drowned nuns, who was their leader, and whose body was not recovered. This sister, who was later on identified as Sister Henrica Fassbender, was strikingly tall and gaunt. She was seen and heard calling out loudly in the midst of the howling storm, 'O Christ, come quickly', till her end came. Even the Times reporter singled out this nun's courrageous behaviour for special mention and admiration. In the tall nun's call to Christ in the thick of the blinding storm Hopkins found a special significance relevant to all mankind, and it is this which perhaps fired his creative imagination and urged him to write a poem.

However, there seem to have been other factors equally potent, if not more, which impelled Hopkins to break his vow and attempt this poem. There are indicated by certain features in it which seem some what unusual in a poem which has for its subject the wreck of a ship. The disaster which provided the occasion for Hopkins to write the poem, and the title he gives it ("The Wreck of the Deutschland") rouse in us certain expections regarding it, but it belies them. It is indeed strange that a poem which ostensibly deals with disaster and death should have been dedicated "To the happy memory" of five Franciscan Nuns---"who died in the tragedy. One would have expected the poem to begin, as similar elegiac poems by others on ill-fated vessels do, with an account of the tragic event, and then present the poet's reflections and meditations on it.

But Hopkins reverses the process, and being his poem with a long autobiographical and theological sections (which forms its first part) in which there is not even a mention of the particular shipwreck which is the occasion as well as the theme of his poem. The account of the wreck itself, with which the second part begins, is rather brief though, to be sure, it is both vivid and compelling in its appeal. There is no narrative continuity or narrative progression which one would expect in a poem of this kind. There is no reference to the burial of the nuns at all, though the poem is dedicated to their memory, Finally it turns out to be paradoxically more of a celebration of the disaster than a lament, and closes with ecstatic prayer to Christ, and a prayer for Englnd's conversion to Catholicism, which according to Hopkins is the.....true faith.

We have Hopkins's own testimony that when he set out ot write this poem, , he actually began with a direct narrative account of the ill-fated voyage of the Deutschland, and the second stanza in Part the Second. It suggests that initially he must have thought of writing the poem on expected lines (compare Milton's "Lycidas" and Shelley's Adonais). But subsequently he reversed the plan to begin with himself and

dwell on his preoccupation at some length without any reference to the actual shipwreck. And hence the question: Why did he make this major change? What could have been his reason for giving himself so much of importance? Does it not affect the structural unity of the poem and throw it into imbalance? Answers to these questions enable us to understand Hopkins's artistic intentions in this poem. They also help us to know why he retractred his vow and became articulate again. In this context we do well to bear in mind what Hopkins wrote to his friend Bridges about this poem. He said: 'this poem is an ode and not primarily a narrative---the principal business is lyrical;. By and by we shall see that the poem resembles a personal ode of passionate meditation on God's mastery and mercy.

Judging by what evidence we have, Hopkins seems to have intended initially to write mainly about the shipwreck and the heroic death of the nuns. But having begun the poem as an objective narrative, he realised perhaps that there was a great deal more in him than his immediate sympathetic response to the fate of the foundered ship and the nuns, which was urging him to give expression to as poetry. The effect of the shipwreck on him was also to turn his attention inwardly to his own spiritual life. We have to recall here that at this time Hopkins as a Jesuit novice was undergoing spiritual training. Since his resolve in 1868 to be a priest he had voluntarily held under rigorous check his powerful poetic impules. What is even more significant, he was engaged during these years in devoted prayer,....meditation on the power and glory of God, and steady and conscientious practice of the Ignation Spiritual Exercises. As a result a new spiritual light was flooding his life and a fresh spiritual energy was charging his being. His creative vision "received spiritual and psychological development which deepened his artistic response to external nature as well as his religious response to God" (A. Heusér).

Even as he was, true to his training, trying to discern the mysterious ways of God in the affairs of men, he was observing with passionate joy the pattern and design of the world, its inscapes, and steadily and silently storing up his perceptions and impresssions of the world of nature. But he did not have a way of articulating them because of his vow to deny the poet in him. It must have occurred to him when he began this poem on the Deutschland that if he merely told the story of the ship and the nuns he would not have written the poem that had been taking shape in his mind over a peiod of time.

Totally involved in God to whom he had dedicated his life, Hopkins the novice had experienced the trauma of the supernatural stress of God, and the might of His "terror", "love" and "grace". And after much struggle and resistance he had been mastered by God and was made to submit his will to God's will. This experience of struggling with God before surrendering to Him seemed analogous to the experience of being beaten and battered down in a stormy sea before being rescued. Fortunately for him this spiritual storm had brought him to the shelter and safety of the "haven", namely Christ, God-Incarnate. The tall nun too, who called out to Christ from the foundering ship, must have experienced in a different way the supernatural stress of God, and her call to

Him must have been an acknowledgement and declaration of it as well as her spontaneous submission to His will. She too must have reached her "haven" after the storm. Thus Hopkins discovered in her experience in the storm and wreck an overwhelming public demonstration and confirmation of what he had learnt throught private prayer and meditation about the paradoxical ways of God, His "mastery" and "mercy". And therefore for him, The Wreck of the Deutschland, more than any other calamity on land or sea, had a direct and profound bearing on his own inner spiritual life. And here is one of the chief reasons for him to attempt a poem

on it. What is more, he found in the entire episode with the brave nun at its centre, an objective

correlative to explore and express in terms of poetry what otherwise would have been inexpressible in its very nature, namely his own inner spiritual life. Further, the occasion of the poem gave him an aesthetic outlet for the emotions long pent up within him particularl, because of his vow of poetic silence So far we have tried to know why the wreck of the German steamship made such a profound impression on Hopkins. We have yet to account for his reversing his original plan for the poem to begin it with himself. On the basis of what happens in the poem, we have to surmise the most probable reasons for the change, since Hopkins has not explained anywhere why he altered his plan. As we have seen already, Hopkins found in the tall nun a kindred spirit in the sense that they served the same master, Christ. Their experiences, though distinct, belonged to the same spitirual territory. Naturally in his imagination they were bound up together to form a complex and unified whole. However, as the poem shows, rather than regard her as his equal, Hopkins saw in her one who was infinitely his superior in spiritual attainment, and of a towering stature.

Furthermore, he saw in her heroic death the making of a martyr, Christain martyrdom is always the doing of God who elects His martyrs to be authentic witnesses to His ways. From Hopkins's point of view then, the nun belonged tio the tribe of God's elect, whereas he was only a humble Jesuit novie and earnest exercitant of the Spiritual Exercises of Loyola (we will know more about the martyrdom of the nun and its particular significance as the poet understands it when we read "Part the Second" of the poem). However he could try to understand the nature of her experience and the significance of her called to Christ with the help of the illumination brought to him by his own spiritual longings, and development. And hence was the need for Hopkins to recount first in the poem the "spiritual drama" in his sin, and dwell at some length on the intercourse between himself and God. It serves as a prelude, a necessary first step to approach the far greater spiritual drama of the nun, for which Part the Second is devoted.

So far we haave seen how the wreck of the Deutschland serves Hopkins as a metaphor, and un objective correlative to give expression to his not easily tractable personal spiritual experience. There is yet another dimension of meaning to the image of wreck which is very relevant to the poem and which gives its final meaning a

universl and all-time significance. In all traditional Christian emblem literature the human body is respresented as the ship that carries the soul; the world is the sea in which the ship is foundered; and the Lord awaits the soul in the poet of call, eager to rescue all those who seek Him and submit themselves to Him totally. Most of us are familiar with the idea of samsara sagara in which we must learn to swim and survive with the help of God. It seems most natural as well as appropriate that Hopkins should have siezed upon this image- F.R. Leavis long ago made the perceptive observation: "The Wreck he (ie., Hopkins) describes is both occasion and symbol--- He takes the actual wreck as the type of the worldly disaster that brings conviction, supernatural assurance, to the soul- ". The wreck in Hopkins's poem is all at once on objective fact, a metaphore for articulating his personal inner spiritual struggle and also a pregnant emblem or symbol for the life and destiny of man in this world, for the human predicament itself. In other words, The wreck of the Deutschland in the poem, be seen to have a personal, general, and cosmic significance, all at the same time.

will

The poem can be regarded as the result of a compelling creative need felt by Hopkins, who had been a silent poet for years, to explore and express in terms of the experiential idiom of peotry his inextricable involvment in Christ, God-Incarnate. The disaster that befell the German ship provided him with the immediate occasion as well as inspiration to attempt it.

It was only when Hopkins realised the analogous relationship between his own experience and the nun's that the structural pattern of the poem emerged. Thus very naturally he was led on to speak about himself and his experiences first while meditating on The wreck of the Deutschland. That the real origins of this poem lay deep in the poet's personal experience - his prayers and meditations etc., - is attested by an interesting fact. Explaining in a latt to him friend R.W. Dixon how he came to write this poemy Hopkins told him that for long "the echo of new rhythm" had been "haunting" his ear and thathe "realised" it on paper while writing this poem. T new rhythm ofcourse in "Sprung rhythm" of his devising. It is highly probable that "The Wreck of t Deutschland" began as this haunting rhythm which gradually crystallised the various strands of t poet's thoughts, feelings and emotions, and experiences into a composite whole and unity. It is ve significant that in this poem of Hopkins's as in many other poems of his, the rthythm is a very importa means of communicating his meaning. That the real origins of a poem could be sometimes in the be of a haunting rhythm long before words and themes are found, has been testified to by such wide differing poets as T.S. Eliot, Stephen Spender, and Robert Graves.

In the next lesson we shall take up the poem for detailed study, and made an attempt to mal

friends with it.

## BYZANTIUM

"Byzabtium" is one among Yeats famous poems, marked by rich and highly complex symbolism. Written in September, 1930, the poem was first published in the collection Words for Music Perhaps (1932) and subsequently in The Winding Stair (1933). The poem is said to have originated from Sturge Moore's criticism of an earlier poem "Sailing to Byzantium" which was a tribute to the great artistic heritage of the ancient city of Byzantium which Yeats considered as a symbol of eternity. Sailing to Byzantium' contrasted the permanence of art with the transience of mere animal life and presents a golden bird as the final symbol of perfection, excelling Nature's creation. Sturge Moore criticised this idea and observed that a goldsmith's bird is as much the nature's product as the human body is:

"Byzantium" reads like a sequel to Sailing to Byzantium' and pays the highest tribute possible to art, which according to the poet, is the only saviour in the modern world which is totally bereft of values. Byzantium' as T.R. Henn points out is "a multiple symbol". The ancient city of Byzantium known today as Isthambul, was the capital of the Eastern Roman Empire. On the death of emperor Thesdisius in 395 AD the Enpuni was divided between his two sons, Honoris and Arcadius Honoris functioned with Rome as the capital and Arcadius chose Byzantium as the capital of the eastern Empire. Byzantium flourished as the centre of highly developed and original forms of art and architecture, especially during the fifth and sixth centuries. Byzantium was well known for its artisans who could give the floor with golden mosaic polished to perfection during 1924-25, Yeats and his wife visited Sicily and saw the Byzantium mosaics displayed at Palermo. The Poet explains the significance of Byzatium.

"I think if I could be given a month of antiquity and leave to spend it where I chose, I would spend it in Byzantium. A little before justinian (Justinian the Great) (483-565), Byzantium emperor (537-567) opened St. Sophia and closed the academy of Plato..... I think that in early Byzantium, may be never before or since in recorded history, religious, aesthetic, and practical life were, one that architect and artifices... spoke to the multitude and the few alike. The painter, the mosaic worker, the worker in gold and silver, the illuminator of sacred.

Constantine was the first roman emperor to become a Christian. It was on Byzantium that he built his own great city and named it Constantinople in AD 330. Strategically located where the two continents, Europe and Asia, meet, Byzantium was open to cultural influence from all directions, Greek, Syrian, Egyptian and Islamic. The glory of Byzantium art can be seen in its miniatures, enamels, jewels and textiles, but the finest specimens are the mosaics, frescoes and Icons. Pagan and Christian principles of art and architecture flourished together, enriching each other. The fall of Constantinople captured by the Turks in 1453, marked the end of the Byzantium herday, though it led, in general to the Renaissance in the 15th century.

Byzantine art held a special fascination for W.B. Yeats. Both the Byzantine poems are expositions of the relation between art and life. "Byzantium", rendered complex by the poets use of obscure symbol and expressions, does not lend itself easily to any analysis. Nor does it follow the ordinary principles of logic in the general pattern of sequence. Yet, one finds that the stanzas are held together by the unity of ideas forming a clear pattern in the final analysis.

ANALYSIS OF THE POEM

Art alone retains purity in the world of today which is bereft of all values. Spirits of the dead, waiting to go to heaven, have to cleanse themselves of the stains of the earthly sin sticking to them. But the cleansing process is very cumbersome as the only cleaning agent which can assure them of heaven is fire generated from art. This takes the question to Byzantium where the floor, paved with golden mosaic and polished to mirror-like perfection, offers flames which are but reflections of the street lights but represent the pinnacle of artistic achievement. The spirits who revisit the earth to undergo cleansing in the fire have to choose the right time and place so as to avoid further contact with any new source of sin in the living world. Artists who are in the throes of creative inspiration alone can conjure up the spirits from the world of the dead. In the modern world, sex has failed, religion has failed. Art alone remains untouched by forces of corruption. There are several passages in the course of the poem, describing the significance of the achievement of the Byzantium artists.

The opening stanza describes the quiet, still moment just after midnight in Byzantium, outside the palace of the Emperor. "The unpurged images of day", meaning the sinful human beings going around in the city during day time, have all retired to bed, including the drunken soldiers. T.R. Henn defines these images as "The drosscovered reflected shapes of realitive that fade as night approaches and mind grows strong again". Night has become still, and even the song of immoral women haunting the street at night has cessed. The gong of the cathedral of St. Sophia has sounded the midnight hour. The self is left in hushed moonlight or starlight. The dome of the cathedral lifts its head towards heaven as if in an attempt to keep its distance from man. It has nothing but contempt for all that man is ".

Man is a bundle of complexities composed of " the fury and the more of human veins". Starlight suggests stability and constancy while' moonlight' denotes whatever is subject to change. According to yeats' theory of history and of human personality the starlit night or the phase of the dark moon, allows the body to be completely absorbed in its supernatural environment leading to complete objectivity. The phase of the full moon, on the other hand, denotes complete subjectivity, Man is a combination of fury and mire, of passion and inactivity or the energetic and the passive, and of the-creative and the corruptible aspects. The dome symbolising the divine, has utter contempt for man.

search of the purifying fire which would cleanse them of the stains of sin. The poet, unobserved appears The second stanza describes, almost abruptly, the procession of the spirits from hell to the earth in to be watching them. His attempt to describe their appearances is a masterpiece in a unique way: Before me floats an image, man or shade,

Shade more than man, more image than a shade;

signifying the movement of a figure which is not concrete. It seems to alternate between the materialized The poet watches the spirits from different angles, and they appear different each time. It'floats' condition of the shade and that of disembodied spirit. The spirit appears to maintain resemblance to its riginal human form. At times it creates the illusion of retaining the living form, but it changes very soon 'image', only to become a 'shade' or shadow, just a two-dimensional figure without depth, mass or volume. Yeats does not specify the spirits exact appearance, but this is the most effective way of conjuring the picture of what exists only in the poet's imagination, and have the aspects of all the three'image', man' or 'shade'. This passage is reminiscent of Shelley's question to the Skylark, raising the doubt whether it is a real bird or ' a disembodied voice".

The spirits return to the earth temporarily only to bathe in the purifying fire and qualify themselves o go to heaven. The process is the reversal of that of death and subsequest burial. Hade's hobbin or spindle unwinds or unravels the spool of man's fate. The dead body wrapper in layers of mummy-cloth or winding sheet unwinds itself in the reverse direction to shake itself free from the burden, and in the process returns to the starting point, the earth, who has summoned them" Or, who can" Only a mouth that has no moisture and no breath' may summon the 'breathless mouths" The central idea expressed by Wordsworth in a passage in "Tintern Abbey' lines will help us understand Yeats' meaning. The poet describes the state of spiritual communion with nature during which

".. Even the breathing of the corporeal frame Almost suspended, we are laid asleep In body, and become a living soul".

During such a condition all the senses stop functioning. Even breathing which is the very symptom of life in put off temporarily. The body is' asleep' with only the soul awake and alert. The artist who is passing through the throes of creation shares this experience when his aspiration goes up in flames shaping the work of art. With suspended breathing, the artist's mouth does not produce moisture which indicates the presence of life. In that condition the artist can'suminen or corj o the s ,m hell to enable them to revisit the earth to cleanse themselves. The breathless mouths who can be summoned are the spirits of the dead human beings their 'breathless condition being a referring to the fact of their being dead and therefore not breathing.

I hail.... death.

The poet who is presented as watching the miracle of the return of the spirits to the earth is averwhelmed by the sight. He can only express his excitement and marvel at the superhuman event. He would call it" death. in life' nd life in death'. The following interpretation of this passage sounds the best. The poet is observing the miracle of the spirits visit to the earth summoned by the artist who has suspended his breathing." Death-in-life" apparently refers to the super imposition of the condition of death on the general condition of life, experienced by the artist who has suspended even breathing only to resume it at will. ' Life in - death' is an expression applicable to the vision from hell whose general condition is that of death from which they have got a temporary repite by simulating conditions of life, the most important among them being their presence on the earth. Thus temporary death for the living artist and temporary life for the dead spirits bring them together on the earth since the artist who is in the former condition is capable of summoning the spirits in the latter one.

The next stanza takes us to the city of Byzantium and points out some of the marvels in the experor's garden. It is a world of miraculous craftsmanship, of artifice and eternity. The poet concentrate attention

on a bird made of gold and planted on the branch of a golden tree, and wonders which of the words, miracle', 'bird' or' golden handiwork' would suit it best. The golden bird represents the very height of perfection because it has beauty which is immune to the passage of time. The combination of beauty and permanence is beyond the creative capacity of nature, and therefore the bird mars the superiority of art over nature. This bird of wrought gold can crow like the cocks of Hades which are symbols of rebirth, Eugeine strong points out in her book Apotheosis and after life that the figure of the cock is found in several Roman tombstones. As the herald of the sun, the cock becomes the herald of rebirth and resurrection. The bird of gold is 'embittered" by the moon who is inconstant and susceptible to change. It is proud of the changeless metal with which it is made and expresses its contempt for ordinary living birds and flowers which are short-lived according to the laws of nature.

The bird in addition, has scorn for all living beings who have inherited the lust, passion and other complexities and weaknesses of blood. The golden bird represents the ideal in the sense in which keats figures on the Grecian Urn do. They arrest beauty at its best, preserve them and thus score over nature. The bird will, for ever, remain young and fresh and go on singing till eternity. Even the 'golden bought' on which the bird is perched is an image of artifice and eternity unlike the branch of an ordinary living tree which is subject to the laws of Nature. The tree is reminiscent of the golden tree of the abala, a mystieal Hebrew doctrine, in whose branches the souls and angles are believed to build their nests.

The fourth stanza describes the spirits purifying dance in the flames - the flames produced by art which can cleanse but will not burn or consume. This fire differs from the ordinary fire in several ways/ "The emperor's pavement' refers to the golden mosaics paved and polished to mirror like perfection. The forum of constantine used to

be called 'The pavement' because of its finished marble floor. These flames are different in the sense that they are: "Flames that no faggot feds - flame". This fire does not require firewood to feed it, to keep it going without getting extinguished. Nor is it like ordinary fire in its origin. It was not lit by the sparks produced by rubbing steel on stone or metal. It will not be disturbed or put out by any storm. These flames have been 'begotten offlame". It is produced by the divine fire which burns in the artist's heart at the time of creation. Shelly and Wordsworth have compared creative inspiration to flames which go up and get reduced in intensity according the degree of imagination. This fire has another quality distinct from those of the ordinary variety. It does not have temparature; it is not hot enough even to single a sleeve' to char or burn even cloth..

The spirits join the pungatorial dance of purification and leave all traces of sin associated with lusts and passions during their humanexistence. After the exciting dance they collapse on the markable floor in agony an agony of fulfilment. The word 'agony' is suggestive of a Japanese no play in hich a young firl experience a sense of perpetual burning, and is told by the priest that her punishment will cease to exist if she can cease to believe. In this context too, the flames which cann't burn are actually the products of optical illusion, the finely polished mosaic reflecting the powerful street lamps, indicating the finest achievement of the artisan's triumph. Art alone can produce the fire which serves as the cleansing agent while other powers fail,

The closing stanza sums up the function of art in the modern world where all other values have failed. In the words of Jon Stalloworthy:

In this magnificent Climax is epitomized the conflict central to " Byzantium"; of death wish and the terror of death. The sea of life and ; assion is torn by joyful dolphins, and tormented by the gong of doom". The dolphin, from another view, is the legendary "nimal mediating between the two worlds, and carrying

souls from one to the other. The dolphin is a friend of man and it carries a drowning man on its back and swims to safety. Standing for sex in another sense, the dolphin saves humanity from extinction being the basic impulse responsible for he continuation the species. Similarly, the' gong', representing not only Christianity but all religious to Yeats, should assure man's spiritual welfare. But the irony is that both have failed the modern man, and have been misdirected. The line," the dolphin, torn, and going- tormented sea" sums up the tragic plight. The dolphin tears the sea of humanity instead of saving it. Religion torments insted of bringing about peace. Bloodshed and sin in the name of sex and religion both being wrongly channelised pervade everywhere. Who can cleanse the stains arising out of the situation" W.B. Yeats asserts that art is the only saviour. The works of art produced by the artisane in the emperor's workship can arrest the procession by purifying them. Polished marbles and such other items of artistic genius can control the sins arising out of the complexity of human character. T.R. Henn explains : "Byzantium", then, has multiple symbolic value. It stands for the unity of all aspects of life, for perhaps the last time in history. It has

inherited the perfection of craftsmanship, and more than craftsmanship, perhaps, the 'mystical mathematics' of perfection of form in all artistic creation."

ANNOTATIONS

All changed, changed utterly

A terrible beauty is born

This is the refrain from the poem ' Easter 1916' by W.B. Yeats. These lines are repeated several times n the course of the poem. conveying the central idea in highly effective terms. Easter 1916' is one of he most famous poems of the great Irish poet who gained international recognition and won the nobel prize.

'Easter 1916' is kind of palinode or apologia to a poem entitled 'September 1913' which the poet had written earlier when he found that a lull or stagnation had set in regarding the Irish struggle for freedom rom the oppressive english government. John O'leary, the dedicated nationalist who was the leader of he movement had died, leaving the young enthusiastics in total disarry. They appeared to have lost all nterest in the struggle, and got themselves fully engrossed in their routine work for lifelihood. The result as that the face of Dublin became dull and colourless. The average Dubliners, indifferent to the freedom truggle, concentrated on their own work in offices, schools or shops Yeats was disillusioned with them, nd mentioned in the poem that the dream of restoring Ireland to her lost glory lay buried. 'Easter 1916' ɔmmemorates the Easter uprising which brought about a major change in the atmosphere. A number fcommitted patriots, about three thousand in all marched in protest against the english Government, stablished control over the General Post Office in Dublin and hoisted the national flag of the free Irish public. As they had anticipated, they were arrested, count-martialled and the leaders were shot dead. atrick Pearse, ames connolly Thomas MacDonagh and John Macbrodge were among the martyrs who id down their lives for the sake of the country's freedom. This event made the poet Yeats realize that > had gone wrong in his earlier assessment of the Irishmen's sincerity towards the national cause. This crifice which they had performed with their complete awareness has suddenly brought about a radical lange over the face of ireland. She has been metamorphosed into a of great nation beauty. Her colourless rsonality belongs to a forgotten chapter. The newly gained beauty is not of the ordinary kind-it is a "terrible beauty'. The poet' means that it is beauty born out of terror, the awe-inspiring sacrifice undertaken by the Easter rebellion heroes. Beauty of sacrifice, tragic in essence, has converted Ireland into a land of ideals - the mother of heroes who could change her entire history.

The poet pays homage to the martyrs who have added a new chapter in the history of Ireland. Beauty of tragedy is more appealing than casual. Shallo charm which is only at the surface level. Ireland has

gained permanent glory.

2. Things fall apart; the centre cannot hold;

Mere anarchy is loosed upon the world....

These lines are from W.B. Yeats' most popular master piece. The Second coming'. Yeats feels distressed over the erosion of values in the world which is on the bring of another world war from all the indications, and is heading towards total annihilation. He describes the situation in which he is anticipating the second advent of Jesus Christ, and is afraid it will be. for destruction and not for redemption as in the case of the original advent.

Men has lost contact with God. he is cut off from moral religious and ethical moorings, and is beyond recall. The central power has failed in every realm; the very axle of social set up is broken, rendering it incapable of exerting control over the other parts of the wheel. The result is uttered confusion and total loss of control. The interdependence of the cogs of the wheel is lost. Things, therefore, fall apart from each other, losing mutual connection and contact. Things fall apart resulting in anarchy being let loose in every sense. The central religious and moral authority has collapsed. Anarchy will lead to confusion everywhere, setting the appropriate background for the arrival of Jesus Christ as the Destroyer.

The expression 'Things Fall Apart' has become so appealing and expressive that it has become a popular usage. Chinua Achebe, the famous Nigerian novelist has named his master piece Things fali apart, and has acknowledged indebtedness to Yeats' usage in the second coming.

Europe was passing through very tense days, apprehensive of the possibility of the outbreak o another world war Fear Psychosis has caught up with the people who had already passed through the trauma of the first world war. The poet interprets the breaking down of values as the symptom of the allround collapse leading to the advent of Christ for the second time, for destruction as the world deserve it.

According to Yeats' personal philosophy and interpretation of history, every two thousand yea period will be one unit controlled by a major event. His own calculations point to the apocalypse toward th close of the present century which marks the maturing of the Christian era, may be into a catastrophe

ESSAYS

1. W.B. Yeats's political poems became difficult by "His being allover politics" - Discuss

OR

Discuss .B. Yeats' attitude to Irish nationalism with special reference to "Easter 191

It has ever been interpreted that Yeats did not support such acts of sacrifice on the parts of individuals and that he wanted them to be very discrete in their activities so that

their lives would not be affected. It was as though he was against individuals taking personal risks because of their involvement in politics.

B. Rajan explains Yeat's arguments and defends his stand:

"Fortunately Easter 1916' is not a poem of sack cloth and ashes : it is poem deeply troubled by the knowledge that heroic action can have more than one implication.... The poem is, in fact, typical of Yeats' achievement, in which the images in the poetic organisation both challenge and amend each other, creating a total life that exists only and fully in the terms that are chosen".

"Easter 1916" as the critic explains, does not discourage people from taking active part in politics. Yeats does not recommend total renunciation or running away from responsibilities. He was "troubled" at the implication of the deaths of several promising young men whose potential in any field could not be realized or developed. So were their unfulfilled dreams: both personal and national. Is there adequate compensation for the loss of such precious lives? would not some patience and discretion have paid off in the end without such heavy loss in terms of human potential?

The poet is a rational thinker as well. He could not help raising some these intellectual doubts which disturbed him. But this does not mean that he was not a patriot or that he did not approve of martyrdom.

Ellmann refers to his "Irishism" - which denoted intensity of feeling. He loved Ireland with the same depth of passion as he did the rest of the world. Ireland was a symbol. He could not hate any country in spite of their political differences or affiliations. It is in this sense that he is said to be "above politics" he is "above" narrow politics based on the cult of hatred as propagated by some of his compatriots. His love was deep and intense ("Irish" which means deep or intense chracterised his attachment to the whole world) and raised him to the international stature.

2. Discuss. B. Yeats' contribution to symbolism.

Yeats is remembered for his original use of symbols. (Please make use of the material in the earlier lessons)

He was influenced to a great extent by French symbolism, especially that of Stephance Mallarme. Yeats was fascinated by Arthur Symons book on Symbolism.

Symbols can be broadly divided into two categories, the intellectual and the emotional. R.R. Henn quotes Horton and explains:

"Symbols are of two kinds, the emotional and the intellectual", the second working ideas alone or ideas mingled with emotions. There is "he continuous indefinable symbolism which is the substance of all style..."

Yeats has made abundant use of both the types, but we find that even the symbols meant to appeal to the emotions have certain intellectual touches about them. His

images, both similar and metaphors, are calculated to stimulate serious thinking and are, therefore, cerebral in effect. Yeats had mentioned that his favourite personal symbol was the tower. Hence the title The Lonely Toer given by T.R. Henn

to his study of yeats' symbolism.

- I declare

This inding, gyring, spiring treadmill of stair is my ancestral stair;

That Goldsmith and the Dean, Berkeley and Burke have travelled there.

This is, very obviously, meant to be of intellectual impact of a high order. The tower stood for several

values in his poetry according to T.R. Henn:

"Ireland was a land of towers, square and round; it fitted so many things, First there was the old emblem of the poet, the spiritual security of the tower, and the inding stair. In the dream world it served to align him with the past of Ireland, and with the growth of grate philosophies which imaged the country's greatness in the past, and, perhaps, in the future".

He makes use of archetypal symbols also, but very frequently adds extra dimension and connotations. water, fire and sea are very ordinarily used symbols, but he talks about the " simplicity of fine", "rose", for Yeats stands for more than colour and beauty. It is a flower which sprouts on the ground hich has been made fertile by martys' blood. Rose stands for the blossom of sacrifice.

Characters from mythology figure in Yeats' poetry, but always with added significance Helen is a regularly recurring character; but she is not just the most beautiful woman born on earth. She combines beauty with destruction, and represents any woman with excessive beauty who carries within herself the germs of destruction, both for herself and for the society. He refers to his friend Maud Gonne with unearthly beauty, and is afraid of its consequences. He wrote No second troy in hich he asks:

Where is the second troy for her to burn?

Images' of birds and animals abound in his poems but with his own characteristic additions. "They are partly traditional and partly dependent on their cumulative significance in a number of poems "The swan, for example, stands for purity, strength, " Immortality with overtones of the soul and the ecstasy of death." But it takes on mythical significance in Yeats' poetry since it is associated with the birth of Helen and War. Yeats has used the image with multiple significance in his poem "Leda and the Swan". Physical deformity developed symbolic value in Yeats' poetry. He used it to convey allegorical

significance. As T.R. Henn points out:

"The value of the symbol may, as Yeats pointed out, contain something of an allegory; as his use of the Blind Man, the Lame man, the Hunchback, and saint, and the The blind man is the body, the Lame man, the soul. The Hunchback appears to stand for pure mind which is no longer concerned with the body. The Fool is the lear type, the licensed commentator on events: the simplicity of the child, the poet freed from the conventions of poetry and civilization to criticism of religion, or love, or politics; so that the begger can criticise the king. Man in old age can be in turn all of these, and the chracter types are

integrated with myth and history".

be cited as examples in the study of his symbolism)

1.12MODEL QUESTIONS

1. Attempt a study of W.B. Yeats' contribution to symbolism

2. Discuss Yeats' attitude to nationalism with special reference to " Easter 1916".

3. Explain the significance of the title " The Second Coming"

4. Discuss the central idea in the poem "A Dailogue of self and soul

5. " Byzantium is of multiple symbolic value " - Discuss

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Jahn Unterecker: A Reader's guide to William Butler Yeats.

**ABOUT**

A Short Analysis of W. B. Yeats's 'Among School Children'

**A summary of a classic Yeats poem**

'Among School Children' is one of W. B. Yeats's great late poems. Like another of his famous poems from this stage of his life, 'Sailing to Byzantium', the poem is about Yeats looking back on his own life and feeling increasingly out of touch with the modern world. Here we offer a short summary and analysis of 'Among School Children', highlighting some of its major themes.

Among School Children

I

I walk through the long schoolroom questioning;
A kind old nun in a white hood replies;
The children learn to cipher and to sing,
To study reading-books and history,
To cut and sew, be neat in everything
In the best modern way—the children's eyes
In momentary wonder stare upon
A sixty-year-old smiling public man.

II

I dream of a Ledaean body, bent
Above a sinking fire, a tale that she
Told of a harsh reproof, or trivial event
That changed some childish day to tragedy—
Told, and it seemed that our two natures blent
Into a sphere from youthful sympathy,
Or else, to alter Plato's parable,
Into the yolk and white of the one shell.

III

And thinking of that fit of grief or rage
I look upon one child or t'other there
And wonder if she stood so at that age—
For even daughters of the swan can share
Something of every paddler's heritage—
And had that colour upon cheek or hair,

And thereupon my heart is driven wild:
She stands before me as a living child.

IV

Her present image floats into the mind—
Did Quattrocento finger fashion it
Hollow of cheek as though it drank the wind
And took a mess of shadows for its meat?
And I though never of Ledaean kind
Had pretty plumage once—enough of that,
Better to smile on all that smile, and show
There is a comfortable kind of old scarecrow.

V

What youthful mother, a shape upon her lap
Honey of generation had betrayed,
And that must sleep, shriek, struggle to escape
As recollection or the drug decide,
Would think her son, did she but see that shape
With sixty or more winters on its head,
A compensation for the pang of his birth,
Or the uncertainty of his setting forth?

VI

Plato thought nature but a spume that plays
Upon a ghostly paradigm of things;
Solider Aristotle played the taws
Upon the bottom of a king of kings;
World-famous golden-thighed Pythagoras
Fingered upon a fiddle-stick or strings
What a star sang and careless Muses heard:
Old clothes upon old sticks to scare a bird.

VII

Both nuns and mothers worship images,
But those the candles light are not as those
That animate a mother's reveries,

But keep a marble or a bronze repose.
And yet they too break hearts—O Presences
That passion, piety or affection knows,
And that all heavenly glory symbolise—
O self-born mockers of man's enterprise;

VIII

Labour is blossoming or dancing where
The body is not bruised to pleasure soul,
Nor beauty born out of its own despair,
Nor blear-eyed wisdom out of midnight oil.
O chestnut tree, great rooted blossomer,
Are you the leaf, the blossom or the bole?
O body swayed to music, O brightening glance,
How can we know the dancer from the dance?

'Among School Children' is written in the Italian verse form called *ottava rima*, rhymed *abababcc*. There are eight of these eight-line stanzas. Is the number eight important for this poem? Perhaps not. But there is a certain symmetry in the 'eight by eight' structure, with the total – 64 – not being too far off Yeats's own age when he wrote the poem (he was actually 60).

In summary, 'Among School Children' is about a visit made by the ageing Yeats to a convent school in Waterford, Ireland in February 1926. As a Senator, Yeats is visiting the school as a public figure, but the poem is a record of his private thoughts. In the second stanza, his mind begins to wander, and Yeats dreams of his muse and love, Maud Gonne, when she was a young woman with a body like Leda (who was raped by Zeus in the form of a swan, as **Yeats treated in his earlier poem 'Leda and the Swan'**). Although Yeats and Gonne were never an item, she inspired him throughout his life, and he sees the two of them as kindred spirits – like the yolk and white of an egg.

In the third stanza, Yeats is torn back to the present moment in the schoolroom, and wonders whether Maud was like any of the young girls in the convent school, when she was their age.

Yeats's reference to 'daughters of the swan' suggests not Leda, but the woman her union with Zeus gave rise to: Helen of Troy, the beautiful Greek woman whose abduction brought about the Trojan War. (Helen of Troy features elsewhere in Yeats's poetry, **for instance in 'Long-Legged Fly'**, where she is described as one part woman, three parts child.) The schoolgirl he looks upon now seems to be the old Maud reincarnated as a young woman, 'a living child'.

In the fourth stanza, he pictures Maud now, later in life, ageing as he himself is. It's as if her late beauty was fashioned by a Renaissance artist. He then reflects on his past with Maud, and states that although he wasn't quite the stuff of Greek myth, he, too, 'had pretty plumage once' – a nod to the swanlike form Zeus assumed when he raped Leda. He then recalls himself to the present and decides he must put a public face on while at the school, and so banishes such memories and meditations.

The fifth stanza, however, sees Yeats immediately returning to such self-analysis. This time, however, he considers it from the mother's perspective: was it worth his mother suffering the pain of childbirth so that he could live his sixty-odd years on this planet? Yeats himself, in a note on 'Among School Children', said that he borrowed the 'honey of generation' image from an essay titled 'The Cave of the Nymphs', about a mythical idea that honey destroys women's memories of their pre-natal lives.

The sixth stanza considers the same issue, this time from the perspective of three ancient Greek philosophers: Plato, Aristotle, and Pythagoras. Plato was an idealist, Aristotle a materialist (who punished his most famous pupil, Alexander the Great, with a birch-like instrument known as the 'taws'), and Pythagoras believed in 'the music of the spheres'. Each had his own approach to the meaning of life.

The seventh stanza then shifts back to mothers, and indeed, to nuns (we are in a convent school, after all). Both mothers and nuns worship 'images': the mother, the image of her child, and the nun, a religious icon or statue, such as that representing Jesus or the Virgin Mary. But even nuns break hearts, just as mothers and other women do, for they are 'self-born mockers of man's enterprise', 'self-born' because women are born of mothers but are also mothers themselves. They mock man's glory and ambition, because they can give life whereas men cannot, and end up growing old and pathetic, like a 'scarecrow', as Yeats feels he has become.

In the eighth and final stanza, Yeats turns to the question of 'labour' – the word carrying a double meaning here, since it refers back to the themes of childbirth and motherhood touched upon earlier in the poem, but also suggests Adam's toil after he and Eve were cast out from the Garden of Eden, following their Fall. 'Blossoming' suggests motherhood – bringing forth new life – while 'dancing' suggests a pleasant form of labour that isn't about burning the midnight oil in search of wisdom, or harming the body through physical toil, but a creative act full of vitality that nourishes the soul.

Yeats's address to the chestnut tree provides a clue as to how we should interpret this final stanza, and, by extension, the overall meaning of 'Among School Children': does the essence of the tree lie in its leaves, its blossom, or its trunk? Is any one part of it more 'treelike' than the others? No: it is the sum of its parts. We cannot 'tell the dancer from the dance', because we are defined by what we do: when dancing, the

dancer and the movement they create are one. If we cease to perform our 'dance' – this statement of who we are, which creates the very vitality that gives us meaning – we become what Yeats fears he has become, worn-out 'scarecrows' with no true 'life' as such.

'Among School Children' is at once public and private: its 'action' takes place in a public setting, but this public backdrop prompts the private musings of the aged poet; but he then makes his personal meditations public again, by choosing to publish the poem. In the last analysis, it is at once direct and elliptical in its meaning – typical Yeats, we might say. The symbols refuse to be pinned down too tightly. In order to dance, after all, one must have some freedom.

**About W. B. Yeats**

William Butler Yeats (1865-1939) is one of the greatest of all Irish poets. His first collection, *Crossways*, appeared in 1889 when he was still in his mid-twenties, and his early poetry bore the clear influence of Romanticism. As his career developed and literary innovations came with modernism in the early decades of the twentieth century, Yeats's work retained its focus on traditional verse forms and rhyme schemes, but he became more political, more allusive, and more elliptical.

His late work, such as his 1927 poem 'Sailing to Byzantium', about growing old, show a thoughtful and contemplative poet whose imagery and references defy easy exegesis (what exactly *does* the ancient city of Byzantium represent in this poem?). And yet, at the same time, there is a directness to his work which makes readers feel personally addressed, and situates his work always at one remove from more famous modernist poets (such as T. S. Eliot and Ezra Pound).

Yeats died in 1939. Throughout much of his life, a woman named Maud Gonne was his muse. Yeats asked her to marry him several times, but she always refused. She knew she could be of more use to him as a muse than as a wife or lover. Yeats was in favour of Irish independence but, in poems such as 'Easter 1916' which respond to the Easter Rising, he reveals himself to be uneasy with the violent and drastic political and military methods adopted by many of his compatriots. He was awarded the Nobel Prize for Literature in 1923.

## THOMAS STEARNS ELIOT

## (The Waste Land)

## T.S. ELIOT AS POET AND HIS 'THE WASTE LAND'

An introduction to Thomas Stearns Eliot (1888-1965):

Eliot was born in September, 1888, in St. Louis, Missouri, America. His ancestors were fro England and had come to colonise in New England in the seventeenth century. He was brought up a a Unitarian, because his grandfather was one. The Unitarians are different from orthodox Chri tians, as they do not believe in the doctrine of the Trinity that God is one. Their general freedo from belief Eliot enjoyed thus in his formative years. Even as a schoolboy he wrote poetry. A Harvad, he studied Philosophy, Snskrit and Oriental religions. Humanists like Irving Babbitt an Paul Elmore Moe at the University, shaped Eliot's anti Romantic bias: Babbitt inculcated in him love for Buddhism and Hindu Vedanta.

However, the essential ideas of these two eastern Philoso ies, had stood him in good stead while he poetically surveyed 'The Waste Land' of the war scarre Western civilisation in all its feckless fragmentation and depressive disillusionment. Pearls of orie tal wisdom relieve the Bizarre inanities of 'The Waste Land'. Later, his 'The Hollow Men' and 'Fou Quartets' too, come to draw structurally from Hindu thought. Having researched in the Philosophy F.H. Bradley whose 'Appearance and 'Reality' has the essence of Sankara's Advaita, Eliot unde stood enough to appreciate the ultimate unreality of this world and all passing values. After Ha vard, he went on to Oxford for a year of post-graduate studies and then to Sorbonne, Paris, where h protractedly immersed himself in French language and literature in particular and in Latin cultu in general. The first World War broke out in 1914. Eliot tried to join the American Navy but we found medically unfit. He decided to settle in England in 1915.

He joined the Lloyds Bank, Londo where his linguistic abilities were of value in the foreign section. He left the bank in 1922 an founded 'Criterion, a a literary journal disseminating modern views about arts and formulating ne critical values with a classical bent and an intellectual force. He made a name for himself as literary critic and his criticism has come to be more respectably studied than his poems.are appreci tively read. In fact, poetry and criticism, the two departments of his intellectual output rare. illuminate each other and despite their sole cerebral source, run like two parallel streams ofte threatening to go away in dissimilar tracts of abstraction and abstruseness. But Eliot is a gre literay force to reckon with in the Modern Period, as poet, critic and poetic-dramatist. His free vers is quite a landmark in modern poetry and as a trend-setter, his life-long directorship of Faber an Faber, the London publishing firm, had helped him to establish criticism as a serious and systemat vocation which assumes equal importance with creative writing.

Eliot's Works:

1. Poems:

Eliot's early poems were published in 'The Smith Academy Record' which is a school magazin

and the 'Harvard Advocate' (1905-1909).

'Prufrock and Other Observations (1917).

'The Waste Land (1922); 'Gerontion' and other poems.

'Ash Wednesday' (1927).

(After Eliot became a Britisher and before becoming an Orthodox Anglican in 1928).

'Burnt Norton' (1935)

'East Coker (1940)

'The Dry Salvages' (1941)

'Little Gidding' (1942)}

Together these came to be known as 'Four Quartets'.

(His 'Collected Poems' came out from Faber & Fabrer, London in 1963).

2. Criticism:

'The Sacred Wood' (1920).

(A collection of his first critical essays and literary reviews).

'The Idea of a Christian Society'..

'Notes towards a Definition of Culture'.

'Selected Essays' (Faber & Faber, London).

The Use of Poetry and the Use of Criticism' (Faber & Faber).

'On Poetry and Poets (Faber & Faber).

Elizabethan Dramatists (Faber & Faber)

Knowledge and Experience in the Philosophy of F.H. Bradley' (Faber & Faber).

3. Verse Translation:

'Anabasis' (Translation of St. John Perse's Poem- Faber & Faber);

4. Verse Plays:

'Murder in the Cathedral'.

'The Family Reunion' (1939) 'The Confidential Clerk' (1949).

'The Cocktail Party' (1950).

'The Elder Statesman' (1953).

A Select Bibliography:

1. F.R. Lavis: 'New Barings in English Poetry' (Chatto & Windus, London 1933)..

2. Cleanth Brooks: 'Modern Poetry and the Tradition' (University of North Carolina Press, 1939).

3. Raymond Preston: 'Four Quarters Reharsed' (Sheed and Ward, London, 1946).

4. T.S. Eliot: A Study of HisWritings by Several Hands' (Ed.B.Rajan, Focus Three, London, 1947).

5. Kristian Smidt: 'Poetry and Beliefs in the Work of T.S. Eliot' (Routledg and Kegan Paul, London, 1949)

6. Helen L. Gardner: The Art of T.S. Eliot', (Dutton, New York, 1949)

7. T.S.Eliot: A Collection of Critical Essays' (Ed Hugh Kenner,Prentice Hall, New Jersey, 1963) 8. T.S. Eliot: 'A Symposium' complied by Richard March and Thambimuttu, (P.L. Editions

Poetry, London, 1948).

9. Elizabeth Drew: T.S. Eliot: The Design of His Poetry' (Eyre and Spottiswoode, London, 1950)

10. Grover Smith: 'T.S. Eliot's Poetry and Plays' (The University of Chicago, 1956).

11. George Williamson: Reader's Guide to T.S. Eliot' (Noonday Press, New York, 1957). 12. Hugh Kenner: The Invisible Poet, TS Eliot' (I. Obelensky, New York, 1959).

13. F.O. Mathiesson: 'The Achievement of T.S. Eliot' (Oxford, 1959).

14. D.E.S. Maxwell: 'The Poetry of T.S. Eliot' (Hillery House, New York and Routledge and Kegan Paul, 1959).

Books recommended for general reading:

1. G. Bullough: 'The Trend of Modern Poetry'.

2. V.S. Pinto: 'Crisis in English Poetry (1880-1940). 3. E. Sitwell: 'Aspects of Modern Poetry'.

4. L. Durrell: 'A Key to Modern Poetry'.

5. C. Williams: 'Poetry at Present'.

6. H.V. Routh: 'English Literature and Ideals in the Twentieth Century'.

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10. R.A. Scott-James: Fifty years of English Literature (1900-1950)'.

11. P. Westland: 'Contemporary Literature.

Eliot's personal life was far from being easy. Until he joined Faber and Faber, he was poor. I first wife Vivienna, an artist's daughter whom he married in 1915, had to be put into a lung asylum which he regularly visited for fourteen long years, till she died in 1947. This experie might partly explain the pessimistic tone of most of his work. He married a second time in 1957 Valerie Fletcher, his secretary turned-second wife, made him happy. However, pulmonary emp sema married the last stag of his life, obliging him to spend his winters in the Bahamas. He pas away in 1965. Genial and good-humoured, he was a faithful Anglican and a loyal friend.

When E Pound, his best friend and literary adviser who pruned his first, Otiose copy of 'The Waste Land'', to political disgrace and discredit, Eliot remained his staunch supporter. He encouraged young! poor writers. He loved the English Music Hall and was fond of child-like practical jokes. He visi America often and delivered Charles Eliot Norton léctures at Harvard in 1932-33. He was awar the Order of Merit and the Nobel Prize for Literature in 1948. After his death and according to wish, his ashes were buried in the Parish church of East Coker in Somerset, from which place

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The most provocative and elaborate poem of his early period, Eliot's 'The Waste Land' (1922) runs to more than four hundred lines. It is multi-lingual, multi-religious and multi-toned. with an admixture of dramatic monologues, bits of conversation, songs and tunes, narration and commentation - not to speak of late-night announcements at a pub that it is time for the customers to hurry up and leave, as the closing time approaches. Abrupt shifts in scenes, as in film montage, hysterial changes in mood or tone and a medley of musical colloquialisms, cockney and a masterly use of the Received Standard, telling sarrealistic image and highly suggestive ambiguities and understatements - leaving alone the recurrent Non-English insertions make 'the Waste Land' exacting reading. For the painstaking it is exciting; for others, exhausting.

The student is warned not to go to one of the several learned expositions of the poem before going through the poem or get confused by mutually contradictory explanations of the text. Multiple meanings, as William Empson's Seven types of ambiguity' propounds, enrich a modern poem and exploration of all possible meanings to line - known or unknown to the poet himself-is a great critical virtues today. The more one reads The Waste Land', the greater the chance of one's plumbing new depths. Eliot's own notes to the poem are not always helpful to a beginner. The books referred to in the Bibliography ought to help better. Ideas by free association and language, often propelled by auditory imagination, make the poem a pastiche whose logic is unconventionally all its own. It is variously described as a music of ideas and as a poetic cryptogram. It symbolises the decay of modern civilisation, suggested metaphorically by the futility of the Waste Land. Prof. Bullough sees in it something more than a mere diagnosis of the spiritual distempers of the age; it is a lament over man's fallen nature, a prophecy, and a promise'.

Instead of a logical connective structure of language, Eloit employs a poetic equivalent of James, Joyce's stream-of-conscious technique, as used in his experimental piece 'Ulysses'. To use words like a painter, his pigments or a music composer, his sound-patterns, is to take language to an abstract concatenation of vocables. But a modern poem is supposed to communicate an emotive meaning before its possible literal paraphrase is grasped. "The Waste land' is not a nonsenses poem for all its abstract technique and if the reader applies himself assiduously to the task of studying it, pays rich dividends.

The original impulse of the poem, according to Eliot himself was 'to relieve my own feelings. Despite the vociferous chorus of many critics that the poem presented the disillusionment of a generation, Eliot persisted in attesting to its purely personal bearings. But this self-avowal conflicts with his self proclaimed classicism in literature and advocacy of impersonal art. Perhaps conscious classical bias. It is certain that, more than the Zeitgeist of the spirit of the times, it is his own mood of acute depression and disgust, fermented by his fascination with the smut and the rut of his generation he had gone into the making of the poem. A personal health-crisis in 1921 followed his first wife's confinement in a lunatic asylum and it brought about the urgent need to relieve Thanks to Ezra Pound's pruning and editing of the first type script of the poem, himself

by letting out a heap of broken images to press his horror and despair, in the poem. it is less unwieldy than it would have been otherwise. There are five parts to it and part IV, Death by Water, originally written by Eliot in French and later, Englished by himself, he wanted to cut out first but was prevailed upon by Pound to retain. The whole of Part V, 'What the Tunder Said, was left untouched by Pound's blue-pencilling. The poem-of 433 lines of free verse, appeared in 'Crition' in October, 1922. Roger Fry, who published the poem in book form, caused Eliot to add the Notes, to fill the blank pages and these Notes have since pleased or provoked or played pranks with various readers. Two significant omissions of source natural in the Notes, are, countess Marie Larisch's 'My Past' and appollinaire's "less Mammelles do Tiresias" (1918). From these books Eliot draw some important elements of the poem.

The countess autobiographical piece occurs in fragments in Part II and Tiresias is witness to the whole action of the poem in fact, he is the apathetic running consciousness of the piece. Jessie L.Weston's study of the Grail Legend, entitled, 'From Ritual to Romance' and Sir James Frazer's anthropological masterpiece, "The Golden Bough" have supplied a fund of nature myths, fertility rites and in the mythological cut of Adonis, Attis, Osiris and Eliot found the objective 'correlative' (as he called it) of his own personal feelings. The important Myths and Mythological cults employed by Eliot in the poem: 1. The Legend of the Holy Grail:

The medieval arthurian cycle or stories of King Arthur and his knights of the Round Table, may be said to have originated form Celtic Britain. These pagan stories were given a Catholic Christian touch by the medieval narrators. Edmund Spenser's 'Fairie Queene' derives from them. The word 'Grail' is a corruption of Sang Real or real blood, out of which 'Saint Greal' came. The Grail was the goblet or cup used by Jesus to celebrate the Last Super with his disciples before His Crucifixion. Jesus, as the High Priest used the Grail, as he celebrated the first Mass.

He called the bread His Body and the red wine, His Blood. It is believed that the holy relic of the Grail was brought to England by Joseph of Arimathea who is said to appear in ghostly form with the Grail in his hands. The sacred goblet symbolises holiness in Arghurian legend. Only that knight who is celibate will have the privilege of discovering it and guarding it. It is the object of a holy quest. With many of Arthur's Knights away in quest of the Grail the king's enemies take advantage, conquer the kingdom and kill Arthur. The Grail is much sought after for its healing power. Sir Galahad is at first the only knight who finds the grail but then he dies. Sir Perceval (also spelt, 'Parisfal') is another successful quester. The Fisher King in 'The Waste Land' is yet another guardian of the Grail which he keeps to heal his grave wound' received as punishment for his grave sin-of adultery or fornication or perhaps a homosexual relationship. (The ultramodern anthropologist might put his grave wound' in the same category as the AIDS virus). Even the Grail, a substitute for Jesus's hands, cannot heal the Fisher King as his sin is beyond redemption.

Along with his mortal illness, the king faces a terrible drought over taking his country from drought-stricken country comes Eliot's title of the poem, The Waste Land'. The Fisher King and his country can be saved only by Parsifal, the new guardian of the Grail. On his arrival, he has to face some herculean ordeals, including a night to be spent in Chapel Perilous and overcome them. He must have the genius to ask the proper questions and give the right answers when he finds the Grail (cup) and the Lance or sword that went through Jesus's side. All the characters of the legend, the middle-aged Fisher King, the old sibyl or prophetess, the maiden who is the Grail-bearer and who is possibly in love with Parsifal, appear in the poem in various avatars, together with a few cullings of the Fisher King's narrative. The knight at first fails but in the end succeeds. Behind the primitive myth of drought as punishment for human sins, lies moral fear that founded several cults of sacrifice to appease angry gods. Many magical rites evolved out of these superstitions.

The time is spring-one of hope, gradual renewal of life and sweetness all around, The month of April ushers in frehness and liveliness. But, strangely to Eliot or Tiresias, it proves counterproductive. The sweetest month of April, as it was sung by Chaucer ought to evolve new life out of winter's death; but it brings a travesty of hope that cruelly inaugurates a wilderness of death for Tiresias, the Fisher King and his fellow Denizens of the Waste Land. The monologue of Tiresias beautifully brings out the nexus between magic, religion and the seasonal rites of an agricultural community in April (111-8). Then it lapses into a reverie of the past.

The past is in the memories of the cruel springs gone by. Eliot is silent about the origin of the episode contained in 118-18. A relatively insingnficant book of remainiscens, titled, My past by Countries Marie Larsich, published in 1917, must have been read by Eliot. Countess larisch, the nice of the beautiful Austrian Empress Elizabeth, was a go-between in Archduke Rudolf's love-affair with Marie Vetsera. The lovers came to nought in a shooting lodge near Vienna where Rudolf shot Maria and then himself dead. Maria's body riddled with bullets and badly out of shape, was carried to a chapel and buried without prayers. The countess's name was Maried and she lived on the stargersee (1.8) in Bavaria.

The archduke/My cousin (11.13-14) is almost certainly Rudolf. Marie reminiscence her book that she used to go south in the winter to Menton (1.18) and that she delighted in the freedom of the mountains (1. 17). Mr. Morris in his article in partisan Review, entitled 'Marie, Marie, Hold on Tight', details Eliot's use of Larich's book elsewhere too in the poem. The description of the bedroom in part-II and the chapel scenes of part V are unmistakable paralles of lanisch's discription of the uncere-monious burial of Marie and the chapel was half-ruined (1.389) and the burial was by moon light (1388). It is curious that Eliot's Notes appended to the poem, should scrupulously avoid mentioning such a conspicious debt to Larisch. Royalist as Eliot was to become in politics, he was attracted to the tragic fall of a great royal family. The First world war had destroyed may antcient dynasties of the ninenteenth century and the real-life story of Rudolf must have symbolised to Eliot, the devastation of royal rule.

The second section alludes to the Book of Ezekiel, in the Bible. Ezekile, the Herbrew prophet is taken up a hill by an angel, to look into a valley of dry bones. Ezekiel is the 'son of man'. He is asked by the angel if those bones in the valley can come back to life. The Biblical belief is that when the spirit of God breathes on the bones they revive. In The Waste Land, such a revival is uncertain If the question arrives and redeems the wounded Fisher King there will be fertility and the new life out of the bones. But his arrival to rescue is only a conjecture. Excepting for the 'red rock' in whose shelter, protection is possible, there is only drought in the Waste land. the 'red' or bloody rock is the stable Christian Church, as 'petra' being rock, St. Peter's great sacrifice, is symbolised by the 'red rock'. The Holy Grail is often referred to as stone of gold. In celtic literature, it is called 'red gold'.

The lines about the shadow at morning and evening have a ring of Beaumount and Fletcher's play, philaster (Act III Scene 2) It':as a sexual connotation, demoralising to all woman, though if is spoken to Arethusa, the innocent princess by Philster, most wickedly out of jealous love. A man is foolish to believe in the outword look of a woman's beautiful face or the virtue she extends till sun-set, he will dearly pay for his credulousness with life. The seamy side of a man-and-woman sexual togetherness is repeatedly projected in the poem, after its beginning here with the echo of Philaster's words. Tiresias, the running consciousness of the poem, regularly harps upon the tragedy that struck him, after his sexual relationship with young girl, (the hyacinth girl) The Fisher king of mythology has violated a sexual tabool.

Tiresias who conbines in himself the Fisher king as well as a modern Christian who calls an old taboo, a sin. His sexual sin has rendered him blind, and his country, a waste Land. As a question or knight insearch of the Holy Grail, he has to strike the right relationship with the Grail-Bearer who is young and beautiful woman turned into an ugly one but whose beauty will be restored by the quester's sincere love and faith. If the quester succeeds he is at once redemmed from his sin and his country will become fertile. Even as all hopes carry with them their shows of fears, the hope of the quester's success, entails the fear of his possible defeat of failure to ask the right questions to succeed. The 'hyacinth girl' of.11 (35-36), landing Tiresias in sin, is quite polibly the Lithuanian girl he met in the Hofgarten (112). She will have no truck with the revolutionary Russia and so, protests that she is German. Mary such girl left Russia and later Germany, to take refuge in London or elsewhere, during the terrible times of Lenin, Stalin and Hitler.Such refugees traded their flesh for a livelihood. Tiresias sees in his imagination a resurrection of drowned 'hyacinth-girl'.

Her story of drowing begins another recurrent theme of the poem death by drowning. In. 1 (38), occurs a reference to the ghost of the Bavarian King who drowned himself in the Starnberger sea, seen by queen Elizabeth, by her bed, as she awoke to the sound of water dripping in her room. The memories of Marie Larisch, contain a descripton of bavarian Ghost-King wet all over and coverd by seaweed. A parallel story to Rudolf and Marie's romantic tragedy of love, is that of Tristran and Isolde. King Mark asks his friend Tristan to bring Isolde to Cronwall from Ireland to be his bride.

But Triss an and Isode change to drink a love potion on the way and fall in love. A sailor on the ship carrying the lovers sings.

Fresh to the homeland blows the wind Why dost thou stay my Irish child?

Melot wounds Tristan mortally later, as a consequence of his affair with Isolde. Tristan sends for Isolde to save him. As he lies dying on a bank of flowers. His deathly plight is similar to that of the Fisher King, his expected redeemer, Isolde fails him. A shephered, instead of a redeesh, comes to tell him that the see is empty (1. 42). Tristan is doomed like the Fisher King.

The next section opens with Madame Sosotries, known for her extra-sensory perception.. She is a fortune teller, with the help of a Tarot pack of cards. From the triple tragedies of the Bavarian King, the Fisher King and Tristan, the poem shifts to tragic comedy; lampooning and absured drama. The name, Sosotries, is Egyptian, The Madame is a Gipsy, homeless and wandering, without any moorings or bearings. Tiresias sees her as the Sibyl of the Grial Legend, but unlike the Biblical prophet, Ezakiel she is a humbug. It is propable that Eliot might have borrwed the name Sosostries from Aldous Huxley's Crome Yellow in which Mr. Scogan disguises himself as Giply woman, to tell fortunes and calls himself by the same name. A man in woman's dress, is bisexual and so Scogen-Sosotries matches Tiresias himself. The Tarot pack of cards as Eliot's Notes explain is the gipsies favourite for fortune-telling. The drawings on the cards thought to be derived from some esoteric or accult rituals. Its four suits are symbalic of the Grail. The cup and dish sybolise the female gental and the lance and sword represent the phallus. All the four symbols are mixed up in the retail of the Fisher King's custodianship of the Grail.

The card of the phoenician Sailor foretells the death by drowning of part IV. The quotation in parenthesis, from Shakespeare's mature comedy The Tempest refers to Ferdinand, Prince of Naples, the Duechass of Malfi where a wolf-not a Dog is to be kept 'far hence'. The Dog accompanies the Joker, the Tarot pack of cards; he may sybolise lechery that undid the Fisher King and caused him to 'wound' nd that may similarly incapacitate stetson.

**PART-II**

**A GAME OF CHESS.**

From Thomas Middlaton's play, Women beware Women (Act II, secene 2) is borrowed the title of.4 'ame of Chess for the second part of The Waste Land. Bianca, the young wife is seduced upstairs by ie Lacherous Duke while the mother of Bianca is sedulously engaged by Livia, the Duke's procurss in game of chess, down stains, Livias, comments on the game of chess, ironically refer to Bianla's rape the Duke's upstairs. Helplessly Bianca accepts the Duke as her lover and the affairs dooms the Duke, er husband and Livia, in the end. Like Philomel or the hyacinth girl being

forcibly deflowered by iresias or the Fisher king, Bianca's virtue is violently violented by the Duke.

These sexual crimes will olige the leachers and their countries expiate their sin through multilation and drought. The word, ightingale' is a euphamism for 'prostitute' in the female flesh-market. A maiden in Ovid's Metamor- hoses is raped and a king goddess turned her into a nightingale. A 'nightwalker' in the cant of the red- ght district, is usually a victim of rape, having to choose the 'oldest profession' by force of circumstance. 1 Eliot's Sweeny among the Nightingales, there is a comparison between real nightingales, singing ear the convent and the female prostitutes in the cafe. Bianca, in Middletan's play, after being seduced y the Duke, becomes his mistress or 'nightingale' (Strongly enough, Shakespeare's a great tragedy, Othello' the Moor of Venice', has a Biance who is a prostitute by profession that who falls truly in love ith Cassio, in Cyprus. Perhaps, Middleton borrwed the name of Biance from Shakespeare, for the verse character). When list displaces love, there is the sinful misuse of sex.

The beginning of A Game of Chess, unveils or ornate and opulent bedroom of a lady. with the help fa web of quotations from Shakespeare's Antony and Cleopatra (in 11. 77-78, and Cymbeline (11. 80,87 :88) Eliot evokes a mock-baroque splendour, surrounding the lady. Imogen, in Act II scene 4 of ybeline, falls asleep reading the tragedy of Tireia rape of philomel. The description of cosmetics and erfumes at the lady's dressing table reminds one pope's mock-heroic, The Rape of the Lock, where elinda's toilet looks like the battle- fild of love and her make-up, a lavish pagan ritual. Express lizabet, in Larisch's book, My past, is partly remembered in the description. The 'seven-branched ndelabra' goes with the description of King Soloman's Temple in the book of Kings in the old testament he cupids are like the Hebraic-Christian cherubim, angelic babies endearingly. carved by baroque rtists who delight in over-elaboration and intricate design. The gay abandon of the decorativeness of aroque art, like the opulence of the Roman empire dooming it, savours of decadence - an excessive now revealing no sign of life. Excess leads to ennui.

The aphsodiasic properties of the lady's bedroom rown the senses' instead of tiltillating and exciting them. Like lewd peeping Toms, the cupids pear tthe the scene depicted on the wall- the scene of rape, replate with the beautiful thoches of the painter's rush and rendered melodious by Ovid's poetry. The lady is married and like the gipsy fortune-teller, ladame Sosotriees, a sibyl perhaps. For all the seductive eroticism of her setting, she is somewhat pulsive like the Ugly lady in the Grail Legend. She is to identified with, among others, Belladonna, mpress Elizebeth of Austria, Cleopatra, Queen Elizabet I of England and Dido, Queen of Carthage one of a description Queen Dido is a female replica of the Fisher King, as Aeneas, her lover-redeemer, abandons he on Shelley's Ode to the West Wind. But, ironically for all her fierce personal disarray she i one night. Her hari fiery in loose spread like that of a maenad-reminding neither running away from someone nor questing after day. She is simply combing her hai Her conversation with her husband, discloses that their marriage is on the rocks. She i obviously a neurasthenic, like Elizabeth of Austria. Her

nervous queries fall on the deaf ear of her husband (However no quotation marks distinguish 11. 115-116, to warrant assumptio: of his response) A spiritual Vacuum Shapes her meaningless words:

I think we are in rat's alley'

Where the dead men lost their bones. But the 'bones' relate the words to Ezekiel and th valley of the dead in the first part of the poem. Perhaps the silent husband of the sexuall starved, but unexciting women, is Tirasias himself or the Fisher King. Then, her neurasthani will be explicable. Even the noise of wind under the door terrifies her, she wants to know wha the wind is doing. The wind ought to bring rain with it but it does not, as the Waste land proves The fresh homeward wind in the song of the sailor in Tristan and Isolde, is another, which doe not bring Isolde to cornwall from Ireland, as he falls tragically in love, on the way, with Tristar her fetcher. The answer, to the question on wind is 'Nothing again nothing'. This 'nothing' i the same as Ophelia's response to hamlet's obscenities as well as her innocent way of sayin that she thinks nothing in Hamlet and Cordelia's answer to King Lear, her father when h expects her to demonstrate her filial love for him quantitatively in King Lear.

Lear himsel neurotically patters the word 'Never' five times over the corpse of cordelia, in the end. The lin from The Tempest about Ferdinand, same as Madame Sosotric's prophecy of death by wate (1.47) now quoted by the husband, underlines the fact that water, is presupposed by 'pearls' an 'drowning' as only a memory is the Waste Land - like his own, present impotency. The irate wif flings abuses at his indifference, living-death and vacuity in a mocking reort, he sings smatche of a rag time balled to which he appends ejaculations of Othello and Lear: 'O 000': Th desperate staccato sounds are also the spontaneous explatives of copulating couples at orgasm For the homesick, sex-starved soldiers on the battlefront. Gramphone records, playing ragtim ballads with such convulsive sounds, were a great solace. Now, at the jaunty song of th impotent husband, the wife flies into rage and frenzied by threatens to rush out into the stree like a 'maenad' or a bacchante though with a single concession to her nakedness - 'with her hai down'. She is a voluptuous Did with an important Aeneasaround and that is worse than bein abandoned. The tedium of her frustrating married life maddens her. The dull routine of childless home, unredeemed by fruitful conjugation, is despairing. Only death can break it. Th dreariness of waiting for something to happen with 'lid less eyes' that suggests the skeleton a well as Tirasiasan blindness, since blindmen never close their eyes, is underlined by the fac that the couple can play only a game of chess, like Livia and mother of Bianca in Middleton's play

The last section of the second part the poem, is set in a pub at night when it is almost the closin time. For removed from the aristocratic bedroom and the unconsummatable marriage of the previou scene, the theme of Lil and her soldier-husband, Albert, is ill-matched marriage. The over-sexed husban prematurely ages, after a series of abortions. Her friend who is talking to her in the pub, quite probabl inflicts several pregnencies on his wife. Constituting repeated moral rape, as the

unwilling wif one of Albert's mistresses, warns Lil to get for herself some artificial teeth any try to look younge to engage her husband coming home, after the war. If she does not care for her husband, other woman will attract him. Lil knows that her false friend, for all her apparent well-wishes is one such Lil and Albert are individually the opposites of rich aggressive, sex-starved aristocratic lady and her impotent husband. Lil's marriage is a succession of rapes; the lady's a frustration of sexual life. Lil is like Philomel or Ophelia-sexually abused or abandoned.

The dialogue at the pub between Lil and her false friend is periodically interrupted by the publican's announcement of the closing time (around eleven thirty at night usually) to hurry his late customers, who in the end bid one another goodnight which parting greeting leads on to a recapitulation of mad Ophelia's touching fare well to one and all and her tragic life, before her picturesque drowning. This once again raise the atmosphere of the pub to the top of aristocracy. Either lack of sex or an of sex, as in the lives of the lady and Lil respectively destroys and destruction, all strata of society are united. In a Game of Chess, the interior monologue of Tiresias, the narrator of the poem is supposed to rebearse auditorily all the incidents involving various characters. One might call this piece of narration an exercise in ventriloquism or monopolyogue.

THE FIRE SERMON

Desire is the root cause of all sorrow and evil on earth. Carnal desires burn up the whole being of a man before he embarks upon a life of the spirit. The Budda's Fire sermon, likens human desires to 'burning' which punishes and purges before facilitating sublamation. Many great Hindu rishis and holy men went through this burning before evoling into Mahatmas. The biographies of some of the "Nayanars' and Alwars' of South India who perfected the Bhakti quit, reveal how a disgusting surfeit of wordly pleasures had them on to a spiritual quest. Saint Augustine, among the Christian apostles, discloses in his famous Confessious what a wayward, lecherous life he led in carthage before he was proselytised to austere Christianity. The Fire Sermon in lines 37-38 alludes to Augustine's autobiographical.

'to Carthage then I came

burning burning burning burning'

'Burning with disire', even as the English idiom goes, the saight to be, came to carthage, 'where a couldpon of unholy loves sang all about mine ears' Unholy Loves or promiscuous sex or extra marital liaison like farmication that is blind to the divine purpose of racial propagation, is the subject of the Third Part of the poem (The Game of Chess has death with infertility in marriage)

Tiresias purveys the riverscape of the Thames by night, as he rows downstream. The Thames is a historical witness to the past. It was a 'sweet' river that ran 'softly' to Edmund spenser and served as a happy hurden to his Song on Wedding Eve or prothalamion.

"Sweet Thames run softly till I end my Song" In his multi-allegorial epic The Faery-Queen spenser, sees the Faery Queen, sailing in her golden bare on the Thames, with her bridesmaids in attendance. Queen Elizabeth I, his virgin patroness was idealised in the Faery Queen. To Eliot's Tiresias, the Thames presents a different nocturnal scene. It savours of Lake Lemon of Switzerland where Eliot was at the time of composing the poem, Instead of bridesmaids of faery Queen, in a gorageous pageant, there are today such frequenters of the riverside as nymphs or prostitutes of shorts, patronised. by the playboys from wealthy families of the city.

No picnic deals is there after the illicit loveless matings of these 'nymphs' and their overnight womanizers, such is the unceremonious departure of all. Instead of the sweetness and serenity of the Thames in the bygone age, there is only vacancy and sinister loneliness around. The 'waters of Leman'are confused with those of the Thames. Personally, Eliot's stay in Switzerland at that time inspired a generalisation of all picnic sports or rendezvous of lovers, besides 'waters of leman' can nean infructuous sex with nonce sweet-hearts (in Shakespeare's 'Twelfth Night" 'Leman' is sweetheart as used in Act II scene 3). a 'leman' is 'an unattractive girl like the grail-bearer a young girl turned by enchantment into a Loathly (Ugly) Woman, or the 'antique-looking' Ḷil of the last part, who was sexually abused by her serviceman-husband The sitting down and weeping by the waters, would suggest one more associatory confluence with the Thames -the waters of Babylon where the exiled Jews sat down and wept, after their exodus from Egypt and at the ghought of Jerusalem. Eliot's low-key, brief speech (I speak not loud or long) is to be contrasted with spenser's Song, even as the scene has changed over the centuries from one of fertile wedding-eve gaity to infertile extra-marital sex in secret.

The macawbre 'rattle of bones', blown by the wind cones jarring on the ear. They refer back to dead. Ezekiel's struggle to resurrect himself. In the Waste Land, the terrible wind is not propagating seeds but bones which no Saviours breath can revive, as religious faith has gone to seed. Swenery is a lusty shameless seducer who grains gawkily (a 'Chuckle from ear to ear') as he contemplates the buring of the hyacinth girl and Mrs. Porter. The sound of horns and motors are the industrial counterparts of 'the rattle of bones'. Tiresias, as the running consciousness of the poem, enters the minds of the quester the Fisher King, the seducer and the seduced. Perhaps, it is the Fisher king who sits near the Ragent Canal, who snacks of prince Ferdinand in Shakespeare's The Tempest' with eyes like pearls, musing on the wreck of his father's ship, on the isle after the storm which was brewn magically by Ariel Perhaps, it is the quester musing on the Fisher King's castrative 'wound'. Eliot resorts sometimes t deliberate obscurity, as a type of ambiguity for multiple meanings and impressionistic adumbrations The 'White bodies' may be of the illicit lovers, lying in the grass near the canal.

Perhaps they are corner! quite in place after the rattling bones, and a rat, dragging its, 'slimy belly' on the bank. The 'rat' could be, as Hamlet suspects behind the arras in his mother's bed-chamber, lusty adulterer like the smiling claudius, in his modern version of the chuckling Sweeney. Lust knows no shame and sweeney announces his

arrival saucily with the blaring sound of his motor horn, to make love to Mrs Porte in the spring. But his mating with her, despite the spring is unholy and unproductive. Mrs porter and her daughter figure in several bawd ballads of the eighteenth century. An Austrian army song of the First World War about Mrs Porter and her daughter talks of their washing themselves-rather, thei privy parts with soda water. Eliot, brings it down to laving their feet-thereby raising the level of hi: poem's decency. The Allied Forces sang:

'O the moon shone bright on Charlie Chaplain'. And Eliot transfered this moonlight to the laving prostitutes of two generations. Perhaps, the daughter, like the 'hyacinto girl' was raped into joining he mother's profession. by Tereus, the Theacian prince and husband of Procne, who raped his sister-in law Philomela and was changed into a hoopoe as punishment. Tereus is here both the Fisher King of the past and the quester of the present. The quester has to withstand every type of sexual temptation including sodomy, as lines 187-195 may suggest sweeneys homesexual attack on the

quester himself If the quester succeeds in staying above all temptations, his feet will be washed with venaration, even as the feet of Jusus's disciples are ritudlistically washed and kissed by the Saviour, according to the Bible (St John's Gospel-Chapter 13). The victory of the quester is greated with a song by innocent children as it happens in paul verlaine's (1844-1896) French Sonnet on parsifal, the quester. "Twit' and 'jug' and 'Tereu' are a few sounds made by the nightingale which also stands for the hoopoe into which Tereus was metamorphosed after his rape of Philomela.

Sweeney (a persona of Eliot himself) re-emerges in the 'Unreal city of London, in other avatar-Mr Eugenides, the dealer in currants from Smyrna, (now Izmir) a sea-port in Western Turkey. His name sounds Greek but he is to be identified with the one-eyed merchant of the Tarot pack who corresponds to Polyphemus of Greek mythology. The quester who is compound of the fisher King and Tiresias, is tempted by Mr. Eugenides, the sodomite-with the added lure of expensive food and weekened stay at noted hotels. But the invitation for perverse sex, is not said to have been accepted. There is no one-eyed traveller or one-eyed sodomite in the Grail legends but a collection of Welsh legends, called the mabinogion, has in its Arthurian cycle, a parsifal-like knight by name peredur who meets a one-eyed man. A single eye is indicative of multilation as punishment for some sexual sin. Thus, the compound of sweeney-Eugenides is to be equated with the Hanged God of Frazer.

Tiresias witnesses a hoteroexual seduction which is a sordid as the 'unholy love' of homosexual overtures of Eugenides. The scane is against set in the 'unreal city' of London. The time is in 'the Violet hour' when all the employees in various offices start looking at the official clock to see if it is time to go home (Eliot in the Lioyd's Bank, as a clerk, knew it first-hand) Tiresias, the double sexed, can at once assume the two different roles of the seducer and the seduced. The woman typist, typical of lone employed women in cities, subsists on tinned food, she is, at the end of the day, bored, tired and indifferent even to sexual pleasure.

perhaps unattractive-to the point of being ugly like the Loathly Damsel of the Grail Legend, she lays out dishes of processed food for the expected guest who is no quester as well as her sunless flat but seeker of sexual pleasure. As a sign of her immodey as well as her sunless flat her undergarments are drying on the outerside of the window, abetting the fetishistic bent of the unromantic lover Tiresias's dual sex is suggested by the image of his 'wrinkled dugs' - the diminishing male harmones in all an old man allowing some shrunken flesh to hang loosy as flaccid breasts. Time past and time future are simultaneously. Present in his immediate knowledge of the loveless sex that the ugly ('carbuncular') seducer of the ugly typist is to have at that twilight hour. He is so assured of her meek submission to his lust that his custom is like a business-deal. His assurance is surrealistically conveyed through another image.

One of the low on whom assurance sits. As a silk hat on a Bradford millionaire. she allows him to observe some preliminory formalities, without in the least being interested in his amour and he cares little for her active participation. Tiresias rennisces his own going through the ritual of sex both as man and woman, in the Greek myth. The typist is disinterested her surrender, as a religious prostitute of antiquity found in the Bible and in the Grail rituals before. But with the religious motive gone, her apathetic uninvolved entertainment of the guest, is sordid devoid of value. All the seme, she is a very much relieved woman, after the departure of her seducer, Gladly she plays the gramphone to be rid of her aptahy and get into a pleasanter mood. Eliot paradise Goldsmith's song in his novel.

"When lovely woman stoops to folly And finds too late that men betray, What charm can soothe her melancholy What art can wash her guilt away?

"The only art her guilt to cover To hide her shame from every eye,

To give repentance to her lover And wring his bosom, is to die

From this eighteenth century presciption of suicide for the seduced girl, for the loss of her chastity, moral values and attitudes to sexual behaviour today, are so different that Eliot's expert use of parody, heightens the irony. The octo-syllabic rhymed lines (11 252-256) move as smoothly as the gramphone needle in the grooves, marking an artifical change in the mood from the tristasse of wooden sex to the relief of recorded music. To the modern, morality is a myth and money alone has worth.

The recorded music that the typist plays' leads Tiresins to the sister association of mandoline music and song in the public house in Fish Street. There is a church there where 'fishermen leunge at noon'. These 'fishmen' are ' fishmongers' not fishermen The colour scheme of 'white and gold' on the church walls matches that of fish which is a christian symbol as much as it is symbolic of the Fisher King. It is possible that the old Greek Church borrowed the symbol of fish from the Grail legends.

The description of the Thames sweating 'oil and tar', is parallel to that of Joseph conrad's Heart of Darkness which book was a favourite of Eliot's (But for Ezra pounds

editing, Eliot would have had as the epigraph of The Waste land, Conrads phrase 'Mistah Kurtz-he dead' from the same novel) Marlowe, the narrator of Heart of Darkness comments that the Romans must have taken the Thames the same way as a modern white explorer considered the congo a place of darkness, adventure, savagery and evil. Thus, the heart of darkness' is in London itself, in every city of the world, in the heart of each and every man. The short lines from 266 to 291 echo the strummings of the mandoline to which a lyric is sung. The onomatopoeic. 'Weialala leia Wallala leialala

liquiduty dissolve the guilt of' unholy loves'. The refrain is from Wagner's opera,Gotteadammerung. The singers are the e Rheintochter, which is German for 'Daughters of the Rhine' they are called Woglinde, wellgunda and Flosshilde. They are sibyls and are to be compared with the three Fates, Norms and the three Witches in Shakespeare's Macbeth'. Weialala laia' concludes their choric songs in Wagner. Their first song, describing the Thames, is based on Conrad's Heart of Darkness, as it has already been noted. Their second song directly refers to the love-affair that Lord Leicester had with the 'Virgin' queen, Elizabeth I. It is widely believed that the single queen allowed her fastness of chastity to be often besieged and invaded by several of her young nobbes but never surrendered it to anyone,

ounting to a total loss. Edmund Spenser's Faery Queen alludes to this womanly side of the great press. (Lytton stracheys's Elizabeth and Essex came out in 1928, dealing with one such affair). The een and her lover are in a red and gold pleasure boat sailing fast downstream, past the shore, the urches and white towers. The pace of the rowing is so brisk that it ripples both shores. The southwest nd (that rose during Isolde's journey and that terrified the sex-starved lady in a Game of Chess) helps > boat and the seducer to hasten this process. Like the meek typist, the great queen submits herself the seduction. The burden of Wagner's opera signs off the act liquidly.

In the next song, the Daughters of the Rhine, metamorphosa into 'nymphs' or call-girls like the >ist. The first girl, a suburban Londoner, was seduced in a narrow canoe (11. 295-296). The Second 1 is from Moorgate. she seems to set no store by virginity, she has surrendered it to man who weeps regret after seducing her and then promises 'a new start But, the girl is tacitly indifferent, like the >ist, to the outrage of her modesty. In fact, she confides to a friend that she need not resent seduction. me critics like Goover smith interpret 'My heart/Under my feet' not as her surrender but her pelessness and identify her with the classical Diana pursued by Actaeon or the daughter of Mrs. ter. But the interpretation is hardly tenable as it is the seducer who weeps, though she is norseless. The repentant seducer who resolves to make a 'new start', is more like the lengendary ester reforming himself.

The third girl was seduced on Margats snads. The physical detail of her ›ken fingernails and dirty hands, effectively suggest her wretchedness and poverty. Her family is humble to cherish virtues like chastity or honour. Conrad's Heart of Darkness has such a situation. like King Lear from Cordelia her people expect 'Nothing' from her

queen Elizabeth (Or Cleopatra)if 1 will) harps on the 'Nothingness of her man's mind and body in A Game of Chess. Lear's 'Nothing 1 come of nothing' to Cordelia's 'Nothing', as well as Ophelia's reply to anguished Hamlet, and the cuity of A Game of Chess, are evoked here and the choric 'lala' of the song in Wagner s opera, uidates the mutual responsibilities of a girl and her family, with a dying cadence.

The last five lines loosely conoatenate Saint Augustine's lust at carthage burning itself up into ceticism and the Buddha's fire sermon which Eliot associates in his mind with the sermon on the unt which is discourse of christ to His disciplies and others containing the Beatitudes (in Matthews '). In his Notes, Eliot reveals that this climax of The Fire sermon with 'the collecation of these two >resentatives of eastern and western asceticism' is not an 'accident' admittedly, The Waste land was ta spontaneous outpouring but a deliberate pastiche and in this way, not romantic. Both the Buddha d saint Augustine speak of sexal lust as burning and pray to God to be purified. Only extreme lulgence in the senses and mortifying suffering, can settle the mind in God.

**PART-IV DEATH BY WATER**

This part is by far the briefest and most cogent. It can be read as a self-contained poem in itself in : elegiac manner.

Eliot has already suggested its theme-of drowning-in madame Sosotris's fantastic forecast from Tarot pack in The Burial of the Dead. Mr Eugenides, the one-eyed merchant was prophesied to have eath by drowing phlebas, the phoenician sailor, is an avatar of Mr. Eugenides. He is drowned at sea. sa pity that when the land is stricken with drought, the sea should overwhelm human lives. The irony

of death by water of a Denizen of the Waste land parallels the ironies of the cruellest April and falsification of the promise given to Ezekiel and the absuridity of the Anglican religious service for dead in The Burial of Dead. Eliot's French poem, Dans le Restaurant, has in its final part the line

'Phlebas le Phenicien, pendant quinze jours noye.

Death by water is paraphrase of this theme and Ezra Pound did not excise its insertion as penultinate part of The Waste land.

Phlabas is quite handsome and prosperous. He is one of the best of men a quester of no me magnitude, as he undertakes to sail which is quite an ordeal. In The Burial of the Dead he took up himself the terrrible tasks of the earth. In A Game of Chess, he went through the ordeals of windy liv death, infertility in marriage and utter meaninglessness or vacuity of life. In The Fire Sermon, submitted himself to sordid sex outside wodlock, extreme 1st that burns up and the ordeal of fire, N. after earth, wind and fire, comes water. The tragedy of Phlabas is that he is fated to drown at sea af all the travails on the waste land, in terrible wind and consuming fire. He is the modern representat of the nethical god or deity of mystery religious, who was sacrificed to restore fertlity of earth. In legend of Osris, the god's body was put into a coffin and the

coffin was cast into the sea. Jessie L. Wes in her From Ritual to Romance, describes the ritual of casting an effigy of Adonis into the dea Alexandria. In seven days it would be carried by the waves to Bibles and them picked up. In Milt Paradise Lost one of his spic similes refers to the tearing up Orpheus's body and the fragments be carried' down the swift Herbus to the lesbian shore.'-

Phlebas's death by water also symbolises the Christian rityal of Baptism - the healthen be drowned and purified by holy waters and emerging as Chiristian. The surfaceing of Osris's corps Orpheus's dismembered limbs elsewhere, after a lapse of time. constitutes a rebirth which unc standably led to the concept of Christian resurrection. Phlebas like Jesus goes down into underworld, as a sacrificed god of old religious. But irony or pity of it all. is that he does not rise ag from sea, as Jesus did on the third day after the crucifixion.

A Dying man, in the final throse of death, is supposed to have a fey vision of his whole life in a f The drowning Phlebas has this instant recapitulation of the peak details of his life's sojourn on ea In this extraordinary flashblack the past become the present. In a timeless Tiresias's recollection off and prochecies for the future, the present time instances the changeless saga of human desires and tl heathly hevoc. So, Tiresias subsumes phlebas as well his runnig consciousness overflows every sa sordid track of The Waste land. The Buddha's wheel of life or endless sequence of an individual's (adopted by the Buddha from the Hindu tenet of the cycle of lives the individual self has to go thro according to its karma) is suggested by the line: 'Entering the Whirpool' Like Tiresias who combi in himself all stages of life, both the sexes and all time phlebas's instant panorama of his life in al stages at the point of his death, culminates in his starting another cycle of life,as a consequenses o just ended one. Circumcised or not, believer or not in the Holy Book, every man has to sub, it him to this wheel of births and deaths as infinitum. No one can escape the fate of phelabas: what is desti has to be gone through. Desires oblige an individual self to take in on one life after another. Unless nasters his desires, one is eternally condomned to the whirlpool of lives.

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Topically, at the time of Eliot's composition some men of the Allied Forces were drowned in the Dardanelles, some others lost lives in the war in Syria and Arabia the poet might have ment Death by water as a plangent therenody for the dead fighters as well as a philosophical caution to all that destiny is unsparing and sudden and that no one need take anything for certain or safe. The example of Philebas is a parable with the moral that even the most heroic adventurer, like the quester, is not exempt from the irrevocable, implacable fate and the ordeal of the wheel of life.

The Holy Grail, according to Miss Weston, was probably brought to England from Palestine by a Syrian 'phoenician' for all practical purposes, is 'Syrian' and Philebas, the phoenician is then supposed to be one who brought the Holy Grail to England. Madame Sosotris picks the one-eyed Merchant and a blank card from the Tarot pack and

concludes that the blank card, is something he carries on his back' But she should not see further than the blank. It may be that the blank card stands for the Holy Grail. Phelbas is perhaps carrying the relich heroically against odds when he drowns.

His disastrous voyage ordained by fate and foretold by the clairvoyant, should serve all men as an eye-opener that man's life and death and getting caught in the wheel of births and deaths (unending lives), issues out of his carnal desires. Out of the ashes of every self consuming desire, another rises like a Phoenix. The 'whirlpool' of desires and lives that the phoenician 'enters' is self-perpetuating like the 'Phoenix' - a word etymologically related to 'phoencian. A suitable linguistic inniuendo such as this, can mediate the remote, realize the apparent and reconciles the incompatible. In a subtle scholarly poet such as Eliot there is an inevitability of such linguistic effects which are usually lost on the unwary or light reader.

**WHAT THE THUNDER SAID**

The fifth and final section of The Waste Land must interest the Indian readers most, as its thundrous wisdom is derived from the Brihadaranyaka Upanishad. Though T.S.Eliot was not an knowledge of Sanskrit and appreciation of our dharma, could be gauged by the fact that among world classics, he ranked the Bhagavat Gita with Dante's Divine Comedy, his greatest favourite. After the Fire Sermon of the Buddha, comes the counsel of God Prajapati 'to give, sympathize and control'. Krishna's supreme solution to be redeemed from the whirlpool of endless births and deaths as revealed to Arjuna, on the battle-field of Kurukshatra, is to do one's duty without expecting any reward. Proper action as prescribed in the Vedas to every individual according to his nature and social obligation, is that duty; the fruit of such action should not be his concern. This dispassionate action or disinterested objectivity shall absolve man from all sins and the inexorable cycle of lives, as it preempts his desires. The qeuster, in the previous sections of the poem,has repeatedly failed himself, for he lacks faith and selfcontrol. He failed in the garden with the hyacinth girl. He is devoid of human and social graces, let alone, religious virtuė. He could not conquer his lusts because he is incapable of self-discipline. His burning desires did not sublimate him into an ascetic, as saint Augustine's did. He could not sacrifice himslf heroically like Phlebas. He struggles still hopelessly in the Vortex of re-birth and another death. So, as a last resort, he turns to religion (as Eliot himself did). But, here again he fails because a spiritual vacuum marks his quest in The Waste Land.

The first nine lines of this section (II 322-330), re-enact Jesus's last phase of life. Jesus was betrayed 'by Judes, his own a opostale and arrested by "Sweaty faces" shining red under torchlight. He sweated drops of blood in his excruciating agony in the Garden of Gethsemane. His disciples went to sleep. He had a moment of dreadful doubt as he felt that God, his Father had given him up - silence' as he was tried amidst great 'shouting' and 'crying' and then crucified to death. The 'thunder of spring' vainly echoes for-off in 'distant mountains' and both 'Prison and Palace' in that Godless land are sterile and fatuous. Great drought unites dualities.

such was God's 'frosty With the death of Jesus or Adonis, Attis, Osiris or Orpheus of the mythology or the Hanged God of mystery cults, as described by Frazer; all die: He who was living is now dead We who were living are now dying With a little patience'

(II. 328-330) The tardy process of the collective death in the Waste Land (II.328-330) underlines people's unpreparedness to sacrifice themselves and their 'patience' is not a virtue but anti- heroic debility. The true quester will follow Christ and not spare himself into the ordeals of physical torture. Terrible death and even damnation. One of the first tasks for the quester is to traverse the arid desert of the Waster land where there is no water but only dry sand and anhydrous rock. The ugly cragginess and waterlessness of the rock is metaphorically described as 'carious' or decayed unspitting teath in the mouth of a dead mountain. The winnin road above among the mountains, does not permit a stop-over to slake, the quester's theirst. With a parched throat he cannot ponder. Even the moisture of his sweat is soon dried up; his feet are backed in the scorching sand and they will be the wrose, if he stops. Rock in a cursed land, does not bear water. No human posture possible, such as standing, lyring or sitting, helps to mitigate the dehydrating hardship. The line:

'Here one can neither stand nor lie nor sit'

is worse than Stan's travails in negotiating Chaos (1340) where he is obliged to fly, wade walk and swim, severally in Milton's Paradise Lost Book-II. The chaotic state takes away from the mountains their usual neutrally assuring quality of 'silence' which is atonce free from both sound of sense and unwholesome nonsense, but invests them with a tantalisingly minacious 'thunder' that is 'dry' and 'sterile' like the Waste Land around. European folk-lore, built upon the Grail legend, has several stories of quest in which the hero trecks through vast mountain tracks without a drop of water anywhere though the air is full of thunder, theatening to rain any moment. The Greek myth of Tantalus's curse is a converse variation of the ordeal of Thrist, where the quester is stationary and instead of traversing a drought-stricken domain he stands in nether-lip-deep water that promises relief like the thunder in the mountains but does not slake or overwhelm. The living living-death is experienced by Moses, is the Old Testament, with the added burden of having to lead out of Egypt his band of morose Israelites. But Moses is blessed, unlike the quester among mountain rocks, because he is divinely inspired to smite the rock an strike water.

Rober Browning's poem, Childe Roland to the Dark Tower came fantasies the quester's having to thirst along his goal through parched travail. The quester in the Waste Land is irked by the absence of 'silence' as wells as 'solitude' in the mountains-two things that a romantic seeks. This implies the quester's romantic leanings and despair. The sound of empty thunders and the presence of sullen faces, sneering the snarlong', standing at the doors of mudcracked houses reminds one of Shelley's Ozymandias' - the scowling wreck of the emperior's head in the desert. The wretchedly snarling faces in the muderacked houses, like 'Prison and Palace' (1326) before, sort

together in deathly aridity. After the skyey surliness of empty thunder in major scale, the hissing of the cicada and dry grass, in minor scale, produces an illusory sound of water over a rock. These tantalizations worsen the quatet's ordeal psychologically. The thought of the hermit-thrush singing in the pine trees in spring.

Drip drop drip drop drop drop The hermit thrush symbolises religious peace and joy and the pine tree by its association with hanging of Attis for the redemption of man. Suggests the quester's unconscious admission that wi compounds his misery as no drop drips, either from rock or from pool or spring among the mount holiness and ritualistic sacrifice, there cannot be life-giving water. his appearance to two of his disciples after his resurrection. The two disciples did not know he was Th next section selectively alludes to Jesus's sacrifice through crucifixion to redeem mankin until the Saviour Partook food with them. He then travels with them hooded and wrapped in ab mantle. Eliot refrains from including the recognition scene, since the Godless Waste Land & manthee conceal the identity of the person walking beside.

Apart from this Biblical source of a recognise their redeemer. Jesus, as far as they know is one among the buried dead. The hood an there are two explorers who expereince the hallucination of an unknown third person on their way person, there is another of a less holy revenant in Shackleton's account of an Antarctic expedition South Pole. Eliot complicates the sensational effect further by adding, 'I do not know whether a m woman'. Perhaps a third story is glanced at, in this mustery of the third person's sex. A wise man in Warren's Buddhism in Translation, which Eliot know, comes across a women on the road and be alms, but she only laughs at him showing all her teeth. Later, he meets her husband ho asks if h seen his missing wife. The wise man recollects the laughing woman by her teeth only and replies he has met someone, man or woman he cannot tell but certainly he has met with a set of bones. The man knows that the human body must perish and the teeth of the woman suggesting bones, sign advance what she will come to- His wisdom has freed him from attachment to earthly things. It do matter to him whether one is a man or woman. He is to be contrasted with Albert, Lil's husband is disenchanted with his prematurely old toothless wife in A Game of Chess. Loss of teech uglify a w in the canal world; but their attractive and showy presence in a laughing woman, does not enchanta who has matered his desires. The reference to bones, pertains also to Ezekiel's vision in The Bur the Dead.

After every martyrdom of a Christ or a mythical god or a soldier on the battlefield there i mourning of the martyr's mother. Mary wept over Jesues's body after the crucifixion. Attis and A are similarly mourned. Bereaved women lamented their sons killed in the First World War. 'mourmur of maternal lamentation' though richly alliterative, takes away a little from the serriou! of the sombre situation, just as the thud of undeclared blank verse almost ruins some passages of P in Dickens's novels. The 'lamentation' being ' that sound high in the air' is as empty as 'the thund the mountains before. The hooded horders' are perhaps the Bolshavic and armies of Russia ra Poland; or they may be the savage marauding bands of Attila and Ghengis Khan. Churches and are razed to the ground.

Helpless women, like the typist in The Fire Sermon, are civilisations are doomed because they are less real than dath. Pain, fear of mutilation and death at inescapable travails of life. Tiresics follows the quester in his mind and becomes the quester himse reappear chaotically and earily empress Elizabeth (or Cleopatra?) of A Game of Chess reappears wit sees before mind's eye and nightmare visions in which some of the adventurous scenes of his pa hair spread out like a maenad and fiddles whisper music on the strands held taut. In 'violet light' corresponds to the 'violet hour' of the typist's seduction in The Fire Sermon, bats with baby faces 'whi - perhaps in tune with the 'whisper music' on the maenad's hair, and crawled down backened wi some topsy-turvy towers hanging in midair - This image is after a painting of Hell by the me

raped, painter, Hieronymus Bosch who deligated in all its eccentric descriphos of the dark underworld berror and preposterousness. Horrible monsters and fiendish tortures are visualised by Bosch to represent human sins, perversions and lust on earth. He draw birdmen, fishmen and toadmen whose monstrous- ness or dehumanisation was believed to be the outcome of their sins, according to some of the mystic sects of Christianity which grew up in the Middle Ages. William Blake, the poet-painter drew inspiration for some of his drawings from Bosch's brilliantly imaginative versions of Hell. Salvador Dali and other surrealist painters of phantasies of recent times, owe part of their art to the inspiration of Bosch. When Hell's towers sound 'reminiscent bells' to keep time which is an earthly necessity, It may be said that sordid earth is viewed as a veritable hell. The bottomless abyss of earth's lusts, produces 'voices singing out of empty cisterns and exhausted wells'. After the 'whisper music' on long female hair and the whistling of bats in hell, these hollow voices from empty cisterns, like the empty thunder and the waterless rock, exhausts even the little 'patience' with which the Waste Landers are dying. Their ghostly voidness is compounded with the terribleness of tantalisation. Robert Browing's Childe Roland is also haunted by voices calling from empty cisterns and destroyed wells.

The 'empty chapel, only the wind's home' is one more feature of the poem whose source Eliot did not acknowledge. This course-writer is not inclined to limit the indentity of the chapel to 'Chapel Perilous' folind in the account of Countess Marie Larisch, in which Maria Vetsera's unceremonious burial takes place in the Heilignkruz Chapel. Apart from this throughly unacknowledged source, there is another - that of Edward Thomas whose poetry and criticism Eliot must have read in depth, as evidenced in this own work but kept silent about their influences, even as he ignored to mention Larisch's book (published in 1917) in his Notes. A poem of Edward Thomas written in 1914 and titled "The Mountain Chapel" has these lines:

Chapel and gravestones, old and few,

Are shrounded by a mountain fold From sound and view

Of life. The loss of the brook's voice

Falls like a shadow. All they hear is The eternal noise

Of Wind whistling in grass.

It is not more

In size than is a cottage, less

Than any other, empty home

'In homeliness'

This ancient chapel is ruins, symbolises the decline of the Christain church- a chṛuch buried or laid ot rest ('shrouded) in a mountain fold. The loss of religous faith is signified by the 'empty chapel' in the dilapidated 'hole among the mountains'. The quester, who is trying to rediscover religious faith, must

have been shocked at the state of the chapel. The sacrilegious wind lends a wierd touch to the empty chapel as the door swings' without people about. There are only 'drybones' of a faithless rico co rico', instead of the English and more usual cock-a-doodle-doo' is of a warmer generation which no divine breath can revive, as Ezakiel was told in the Bible. The cock's mediterraneane climate (of Spain, Portugal and Italy) and so representative of the whole of Europe in its crists of faith. The cock is damnable symbol of betrayal as it crowed thrice when St. Peter betrayed Jesus after His arrest. Suddenly there is a flash of lightning and at last a drama gust not a devastating wind - brings rain. The moment of hope of change the sign of recovery of faith - is signalled by a change scene. From decadent Europe of Upanishadic India, is a Himalayan transit; but the Orient has been anticipated in The Fire Sermon itself. Now, from the Buddha back to the hoary timeless Vedic Dharma, for the ultimate in wisdom for the best of questers, it is a smoother and less jolting spiritual migration. The Indian scene, though not a waste land is so timed as to bear some physical resemblance to arid Europe. The time is the dry pre-monsoon period when the farmer looks up to the sky. Even the great perennial Ganga flows narrowly between its backs then. All vegetation is somewhat shrunk and thirsting for rain. The sunken Ganga is described in Rudyard Kipling's Kim and Sankrit classic. The jungle, like a hungry tiger lying in wait for prey, lies 'Crouched, humped in silence' Jim Corbett has many such descriptions of wild cats in the jungle.

Like the ordeal of penance by Bhagiratha, to get the Ganga released from the matted crown of hair of Lord Siva-the ultimate moment of quest for holy water that quenches spiritual thirst, arrives. Then it thunders Da, Da, Da. This is no empty thunder but an eliciting thunder-heavenly behest to comprehend the three might Da's which stand for 'Damyata' (control yourself) 'Daatta' (give) and Dayadhvam (be compassionate) (Eliot, thanks to whatever source of the Upanished in translation that was available to him, had changed the order to 'Datta', 'Dayadhvam' and 'Damyata' and made a first personal, self-searching question out of the Sankrit Prescriptive verb in the second person). This thunder occurs as a heavenly echo of Prajapati's tiplet of Da's at the very and of the Brihadaranyakopanishad. Prajapathi is the father of three different

races - the gods, the men and the demons. These threefold children, as is the custom, lived as students with their father who taught them according to their levels of intelligence. Having finished their period of studentship first, the gods asked their father and guru to instruct them in supreme wisdom.

Then Prajapathi uttered the syllable of 'Da' and asked if they understood. They replied that they did and added that the guru meant 'Danyata' and thus instructed them to control themselves. Then the men applied to the guru for instruction and another 'Da' was uttered by him, with a similar question as to their comprehension. The men replied in the affirmative and expanded the syllable 'Da' as 'Datta' ah implicit instruction to them to give. Finally the demons asked for his parting message, Yet another 'Da' was their reward, which they understood as 'Dayadhvam' - the guru teaching them to be compassionate Prajapati was satisfied with the interpretations of his three (De's) 'Da's by his three-fold offspring. The questers of right knowledge must undergo go the final intellectual ordeal of answering cryptic questions and they successful did so, in the Upanished but the quester in The Waste Land fails to apprehend the meaning of the three "Da's uttered by the thunder.

However Tiresias knows what the thunder failure which is due to the fact that he never controlled himself (or his desires), never gave himself in love to others. He had surrendered himself to his lusts and such lecherous self- indulgence would be rewarded only with death. After the death of the lechers, their mistresses, simply forget them and enjoy their legacines unthanked and unremembered after their death, they should bitterly realise their life-long follies of unholy loves, had their memories served them right. But their minds died with them. Proleptically, their being totally forgotten is visualised by the image:

'On in memories draped by the beneficient spider' The line echoes Webster's devilish Flamineo's I...they'll remarry Ere the worm 'pierce your winding sheet; Ere the spider

Make a thin curtain for your Epitaph' lo in The White Devil (Act V Scene VI, II, 156-158). It is possible that Eliot had on his mind Hamlet's disgust at his mother's overhasty marriage with Claudius almost soon after king Hamlet's foul murder - a horrible, instance of incestuous love.

The second 'Da" as Eliot has it, stands for 'Dayadhvam' or 'Sympathise'. The quester has ben heartless towards others. He is a prisoner of his self-indulgent ego. He has locked himself up-caught as he is in the whirl of disires. In Dante's Inferno (Canto XXXII-46) Ugolino, locked up with his little children till they die of starvation, despairs:

And I have heard through the horrible tower someone

nailling up the door'

Such is the quester's arrest in the self-enclosed tower of personal sensuality which shut out his objects of pleasure from reciprocal relationship. F.H. Bradley in his Appearance and Reality expresses more directly his own selfish, narrow minded insulanity thus:

"

..... my experience falls within my own circle,

a circle closed on the outside"

The quester in The Waste Land resembles Shakespeare's Coriolanus, in his aloneness, after having betrayed his on people, on account of his hubris or tragic pride. For all his adminabel qualities s man, he was 'broken' or undone.

The third 'Da' of the thunder, standing for 'Damyata' or self-control, counterpoints the quester's abandoning himself to his carnal carvings. The couples in the boats on the Thames in The Fire Sermon lacked self-control and were doomed to die of sureett effete and ennui. The quester's failure with the hyacinth girl or the husband's failure with the hyacinth girl or the husband's impotancy to satisfy his nymphomaniac-turned-neurotic wife, or Albert's unbridled abuse of his wife, Lil, as a sexual toy, in A Game of Chess, are other examples of utter disobedience to nature's law of moderation and reciprocity in human relationships. Containment makes for contentment. To control oneself, to sympathize with others and to give oneself in love to others, are the three cardinal virtues that the quester is devoid of; hence his failure to relieve the drought, symbolised by the empty thunder. The Fisher King of the Waste Land, helplessly awaits rain, sitting still, which is a meditative posture. Would be take the hind of his imminent death and set his house in order before he dies? Prophet Isaiah ordered King Hezekiah who was on his death-bed to set his house in order before he died (Eliot is again Selective in his reference to the Biblical episode, as Hezekiah got a new lease of life from Good, the Compassionate).

The neurotic repetition of the falling of the bridge of London, might suggest anguish over the decline and fall of European citadels of culture. Eliot might be remembering Oswald Spengler's eloquent testimony of 'falling cities' in his Der Untergang des Abendlandes which in German means The sunset of th Sun: et Lands'. The Fisher King has to purge or expiate his sins before seeking salvation for himself or his lar. This is suggested by the reference to Dante's Arnaut Daniel in Purgatorio XXXVI, II 145-148.

"I

pray you now by that Divinity

Who guides you to the summit of the stair

Keep at due time my pain in memory"

Then hid he in the fire that makes them fair',

This refuge by losing his identity in the fine is similar to the metamorphosis of the raped girl into a nightingale or a hoopoe or a swallow. The golden kindness of God transmutes dirt into diamonds. But the 'dirt' of the Fisher king is yet shut up in his self-enclosed tower. Solitary in exile he is like Prince de 'Aquitance in Gerrara de Narval's El Desdichado, 'shoring' or supporting with oblique poles the roof of his ruined house from creshing down. These supports hold up his fragmented life - even as Tiresias's variegated experiences prop up his stream-of-consciousness and a phantom gallimaufry of quotations from multiple sources, named and unnamed land some thematic shores to Eliot's poem in deliberate disorder.

From Thomas Kyd's The Spanish Tragedy comes, "Why then I'll for you" in line 431, the second part of which 'Hieronymo's mad againe' is the alternate title of the same play. This is the one lin of the poem in which Eliot's source is tall-tale. Kyd's play, a tragedy of revenge, anticipates Shakespeare's Hamlet in theme as well as - stagecraft. It has a father, Hieronyomo, avenging his son's foul murder successfully despite going mad in the process. Hamlet is a prince who avenges his father's murder, after feigring madness to get at the villian. In both the plays the murderers are powerful and high-placed. Hieronymo's beloved son, like Frazer's God and Jesus, is found hanging from a tree. Though maddended by the murder of his son, Hieronymo manages to devise an elaborate and cunning revenge in the form of a play within the play at court. The murders, thanks to the revelation of his son's ghost, are identified. Their villainy is exposed and punished by making them act in the play. They are stabbed to death by Hieronymo, who also plays a role. Hieronymo is arrested by thesoldiersbut he bites his tongue off to avoid explanation.

When they give him a paper to write down his confession, he signals for a pen to write with and then stabs himself with it. The words 'Why then I'll fot you' are uttered by Hieronyomo when the villains, Balthazar and Lorenzowho have murdered his son, ask him to help them stage the play. 'Hieronyomo's mad againe retains Kyd's own spelling of his sub-title to The Spanish Tragedy and refers to Hieronyomo's mad fits time gain in the play. The tragic avenging of his son's murder, might obliquely hint that the Fisher King has to work out, against terrible odds his own redemption - a moral duty to be performed by himself to atone his sins and salvage the Waste Land. The Hanged God unlike the son of God, is dead and beyond resurrection lik Hieronyomo's son.

The genital multilation of the Fisher King has to be avenged and his fertilising power must be regaind through an ordering of his own life and following the precepts of the Upanishadic Prajapathi: 'Give Sympathise, Control' What the Thunder Said ends on a - the Vedic Blessing of 'Shanthi' repeated twice at the end of the most mantras or Universal prayers, rounds off The Waste Land. This place which posseth understanding ('shanthi') is spiritual frames and the physical world goes beyond the dichotomies of sterility and fertility self-indulgence and self-control, or the quester and the quested.

**THOMAS STEARNS ELIOT promising**

**CONCLUSION**

Eliot borrowed the title of his poem, 'The Waste Land' from J.L. Weston's book; From Ritual to which fixes the anthropological bearings of the great period piece, registering the post-war pean Scenario. Eliot's erudition renders the poem difficult for the ordinary reader. From the fertility ils of ancient societies to the sacrifice of Jesus, faith and orderliness ruled human life. But the ern man suffers from a crisis of faith, a schism in his soul, a disintegration of the social order, a nation of moral values, a satanic pursuit of ruinous pleasures that devitalise sterilise and cut at the of human race. The only hope of redemption comes through serve suffering in emptation, sympathy thers, self-control and self sacrifice.

A historical imagination contemporises the past, after appre- ling the commingling of several traditions and cultures of past in the present. A search for lost roots cessitated by the fragmented despair of the modern civilisation. W.B. Yeats's poem 'Meruanticipates t's The Waste Land both in its critique of the illusory modern civilisation and in its turning to the alayan peak of Hindu wisdom Eliot's urban imagery links him with Baudelaire and Laforgue. Dante, 3hagavat Gita and the Brihadaranyakopanishad, with a smattering of the Fire Sermon, attributed e Buddha Shore up Eliot's straggling meditations. His poetic imagination draws from Shakespeare , Webster and besides several French symbolists his own French poem, Dans Le Restaurant. There was harmoney between human culture and natural environment in the ancient days of tation cults, fertility myths and rituals and willing personal sacrifices for common good. Religion out of the mustery cults, helped to continue a sympethetic and intuitive apprehension of nature in is moods and cycle of seasons and ensured a unity of life. In the modern Waste Land, thre is a travesty 'e, nature and valus. The topsy turvy dom of the spring season conferring sterility, sympotomises the h of degradation, disintegration and decay (One wonders what Anglican Eliot would feel today in tion to systematic and total prevention of child-birth among married couples).

Modern science has e a religion of sterlisation, to contain the problem of population explosion. Ironically anthropology ch discovered the fertility consciousness of our talents, is a branch of modern science which ctively uses its knowledge to understand the archetypal patterns of humanity, without promoting in time-tested vlaues and a healthy harmony with nature. The values purported in The Waste Land already dated and out of fashion. Except as resume' of Frazer and Weston and as a record of the ctionlessness that characterised the aftermath of the First World War, the poem's significance to the ler's today, is chiefly literary.

As a model of free verse, the poem has influenced many poets of this ury Eliot's masterly use of irony pardy, dramatic monologue, stream of consciousness technique, wledge of psychology as well as parapsychology Esoteric, religious and magic lore the Tarot pack and pop-songs, is well within the grasp of an educated Western reader -

though he may be confounded he Upaneshadic wisdom disjointdly climaxing the poem's search for a spiritual resolution of the ern crisis of values. Eliot's application of the Vedic precepts of get over ego-centric stultification, it to encourage the Indian readers to appreciate the pith of poem..

Structurally, the poem's division into five parts, with recurring motifs and counterpoints, clearly ests a musical organisation - rather than a poetic unity. The nearest genre to which the poem cally belongs, is that of the dramatic monologue as used by Browning in The Ring and the Book and and Women. In giving expression to a highly neurotic sensibility of some of its characters, the poem ely resembles parts of Tennyson's Maud which is an amalgam of dramatic monologues, narrative and

songs.

The behaviour of the unconscious mind which engaged the attention of pshychologists like Freu Jung, Adler and Kraft-Ebing, is explored by Eliot in a literary way. James Joyce has already anticipate him in Ulysses in the uncensored resentation of free association of ideas. In unifying thinking and feelir Eliot has already found masterly models in the Metaphysical poets. He might have met Jung: Switzerland where he wrote The Waste Land and he had personal experience of a nervous break-dow hence his deep consciousness of the problems of neurasthenia. It has already been stated elsewhere th Eliot's own spiritual crisis and dilemma between the instinctual romantic in him and the cultivat classicist in him, have livened up his poetic which is a blend of sensuous lyricism and sonoro reflectiveness. Since his emotional problems are common to almost one and all, even his occasional personalised objective correlatives and private imagry, achieve a degree of impersonality which in h criticism, he views as great art. Behind the apperent artificialiaty a sincere effort of the poem lies: saying new things, in a new way without straining the old idiom. Eliot's 'raid on the inarticulate' is conscious exploration of the living language. A certain precise vagueness, or vague preciseness inforn his suggestive capability; multiple meanings suggest themselves in some of his seemingly blar statements or rhetorical questions. Empson's Seven Types of Ambiguity can be exemplified fro passages in The Waste Lnd.

F.R. Leavis opines that Eliot achieved 'a compression approaching simultaneity - the co-presence: the mind of a number of different orientations, fundamental attitudes, orders or experience in The Was Land. His quotations, references, and allusions, spanning various sources and different language demand of the reader considerable scholarship and acquaintance with several languages, and religio philosophies. But thanks to some good explications of the poem and Eliot's own Notes to it, the ordeal comprehension is not impossible to go through, as the questers is in the Waste Land. Rich in audito: imagination the poem, true to Eliot's own view 'that genuine potry can communicate before it understood' does convey somthing on being read aloud and after repeated readings many serious reade to enjoy Eliot's extravaganza - a tour de force that rewards in proportion to the attention given it.

## TED HUGHES

### AN INTRODUCTION TO THE POETRY OF TED HUGHES (b.1930)

Edward James Hughes, more simply and widely known as Ted Hughes, is the present poet Laureate f England. In the history of modern poetry, his name is usually associated with Donald Davie, Thom Gunn and the American poet, Sylvia Plath the last one he met in Cambridge in 1956 while she was on a Fullbright scholarship at the University and married her and together they went to the U.S.A. in 1957, where Sylvia taught literature at Smith college and Ted taught English and creative writing at the University of Massachussetts in Amherst. The couple returned to England in 1959 and settled in London to lead productive literary lives.

They had two children- The first was named Rebecca and the second Nicholas Farrar. By the middle of 1962, the marriage was in trouble owing to Ted's affair with another woman; shortly afterwards, Sylvia attempted to commit suicide. They were separated and Sylvia died uf gas asphyxation in 1963. Hughes lamented her death quite eloquently but symbolically in several of his poems of 1963. For three years afterwards, he did not write poetry altogether. Later, he recovered himself and resumed poetising. Apart from poetry, he has written reviews, plays and articles and given radio talks. He is a keen angler and naturalist. In the summer of 1980, he went to Alaska, with his son, Nicholas, to catch the giant salmon. His recent volume, River discovers his passion for fishing and nature studies. In 1984, he succeeded Sir John Benjeman as Poet Laureate.

A. Alvarez in his anthology of modern poetry entitled, The New Poetry, seems to take stock of what has happened since Philip Larkin whom he considered ' middle-brow' and the Apocalypsts. Though he sets store by two Americans, Robert Lowell and

John Berryman who ' make it new', he does recognise the innovative talents of Norman Mac Caig, Donald Davie, Thom Gunn and Ted Hughes. These poets were generally reacting against an outworn neo-romanticism. Between Thom Gunn and Ted Hughes there are some interesting points of comparison. A' Hemingway like muscularity in situations of a Sartrean tortuousness is to Gunn's liking. Short of a moral sensitivity to match his concerns, he seems committed to 'a kind of nihilistic glamour', rather saucy. There is much violence in his work, as if it were an artistic value in itself and Ted Haughes is with him, with violence as a creed, though, unlike, Gunn, he is free from indulging in near-masochistic outrages. Alsoless ambiguous than Gunn, on moral grounds Hughes has a sense of nature which Gunn and most other contemporaries lack.

Thanks to his having brought and lived in an old rectory in Devon, as an escape from oppressive London, his feeling for the countryside which the London-bound writers usually forget, has done his poetry a world of good. His firstbook The Hawk in the Rain (1957) was a flurried beginning of some promise. But by 1960, when his Lupercal came out, he grew much in self-assurance - despite a lack of variety of tone. His 'animal poetry' is excellent; his evocations of otter and pike are feeling ful. He brings to animal subjects and sometimes even to landscape a feeling for their being starkly encroached, upon. Edward Thomas, before him in the modern period,had felt the same human guilt of impinging on animal habitat and virgin landscape. Hughes's life has been eventful and at times turbulent; its bearing upon his poetry to anextent, is patent. The dark tones of Wodwo (1967) and the compellig symbolism of Crow (1970) are definitely autobiographical. But on closer scrutiny, his poetry, by and large is without direct literary or biographical

subjective with a consciousness influence. In this respect he is unlike Sylvia Plath and Robert Lowell who are confessional mode. "There is a subtle difference from subjectivity and auto. iography and this is made clear in Hughes's Moortown (1979) poems which savour of a diary and yet they are objective. The fact is that Hughes, in the strict sense of the term, is not autobigiographical, as his poetic personality is divided between two opposing personae when one personal begins to assimilate the sensuous world of facts, the other is rising in counterpoint and makes it a problem or deadlock. The poet's admits the drama between the two personae as well as the objective world and thus a biographical (not autobiographical) record of it all ensures. This cinsciousness is subjective, without being autobigraphi- cal. In the earlier poems of Edward Thomas such as The other Hughes has found such poetically productive tension between two selves and followed the example. Hughes's creative impulse manifested itself first with his experiences on a sheer cliff in the calder Yalley, west of Halifax, which was notorious for innocent suicides. He saw 'an evil eye' in the cliff which instilled fear of fall as well as posed as an obstacle to go beyond. The challenge of the cilff divided in him the suicide and the daring conqueror who counter-attacks the though of suicide as well as the dangerous unscalability of cliff. The drama between the divided selves, finds many cliff-hangers, literally and figuratively, in life, It has often neurotic and sometimes psychotic overtones. It has often neurotic and sometimes

psychotic overtones. The Though Fox illustrates the tension between a disembodiedx imagining which takes on a sensuous from and then is transcribe into words on a page, and the perceiving self. The imaginary or imagining 'I' is shocked by the presence of this perceiver.

Till, with a sudden sharp hot stink of fox it enters the dark hole of the head.

The dark hole the head seems to refer to that of third person-or the narrator is referring to himself as a third person (as some neurotics and psychotics do). The reader is led on to experience both the subjective development of the thought into a fox and its sudden arrival from outside into the conscious mind of the poet. The thought creep up in a typically idiosyncratic way:

an eye A widening deepening greenness Coming about its own business'

Both in his bird poems such as Thrushed and animal poems in The Hawk in the Rain such as The Jagar, Haughes's images need to be seen in the context of the dramatic encounter between the two selves. They are not really about birds or animals or things but are the poet's attempts to free himself from what his evil of self-consciousness makes unnatural within himself.

At a cage where the crowd stands, stares, mesmerized As a child at a dream, at a jaguar hurrying enraged Through prison darkness after the the drill of his eyes On a short fierce fuse. Not in boredom The eye satisfied to be blind in fire by the bang of blood in the brain deaf the ear

He spins from the barse, but there's no cage to him. More than to the visionary his call; His stride is wilderness of freedom. The world rolls under the long thrust, of his heel. Over the cage floor the horizons come. This 'Jaguar' in its vivid otherness, symbolises the poet's out-starting the starting of others at him or his, self-consciousness staring at his unfreedom. The jaguar's fierce defiance of the public glare-fury blinding his eye and deafening his ear and violent movement, vitiating the bars of the cage-mesmerizes' the public and momentarily at least, signals the wild animal's subjugation of the whole world. The visionary victory against physical odds, is neither a dream nor a hallucination but the mesmeric power of the jagaur's wild spirit.

The poems of Wodwo (1967) are mostly incantations celebrating the sensory world of physical power. Even in these poems, the public stare that provokes ambivalence between an outer reality and an inner reality, persists:

'The husk of a grasshopper

Sucks a remote cyclone and rises

The full bared throat of a woman walking water,

The loaded estuary of dead

And I am the cargo

Of a coffin attended by swallows.

And I am the water

Bearing the coffin that will not be silent.

The clouds are full of surgery and callision

But the coffin escapes a black diamond,

A ruby brimming blood,

An emerald beating its shores,

The sea lifts swallow wings and flings

A summer lake open,.... (From Cadenza) and horror'. In ponds, they look up with their jaws hooked clamp and fangs', which give them their characteristic 'grin' which in the background of the still, dark shade of heat-struck lily pads and floating 'block leaves' of last autumn, or while hanging in yellowish hollow of weeds, is conspicously 'malevolant'. These jaws of the pike, are the most important part of its body; rather, its 'gills' and' pectorals' and 'green tigering gold' are all working for (exist for the sake of), their ruling 'instrument'-the jaws. Again, Hughes's angle of vision is selective of the Thrushes' these pike are voracious killers, cannibals and absurdly self- destructive.

Now, a narrator, as in The Thought Fox, breaks into the apparently objective series of evocative descriptions of the pike. Perhaps it is a child or a young member of a household-going by the words:

'Three we kept behind glass, jungled in weed;

The ornamental glass-tank had three pike in it which were fed quite tastefully and well. Yet, the number of pike dwindled to two first and finally one. This fittests survivor:

'With a sag belly and the grin it was born with' represents the pike's penchant to 'spare nobody'. Two pike weighing six pounds each and measuring two-feet long, fought each other so fierecely to devour each. other that:

'One jammed past its gills down the other's gullet

The outside eye stared: as a vice locks -

The same iron in this eye

Thought its film shrank in death'

This deadlock is not a drawn match but double death. Cannibalism is self-destructive ultimately.

In contrast to the pike are other species of fish like the muscular tench'. They thrive in a pond by a monastery whose lilies remain undistubred and fresh, unlike the heat-struck lily pads' in the pond of pike. The monastery is now dilapidated and its stones are in a rubble; but the tench in the pond have outlasted the holy place which 'planted' them in the natural pond. The fact that Hughes, despite his concentration on the violent jaws of the pike to the point of overlooking other attractive parts, does think of strong ('muscular') but non violent tench, saves his perspective from obsessive faddism.

The last three stanzas get deeper than literal, factual surface observation and the 'fishing' becomes metaphorical. The legendary waters are stiller and deeper than those of glass-tanks and ponds. The transitition from the real to the figurative is smooth, since the ruinous monastery points back in time: 'Still legendary depth

It was as deep as England. It held

Pike too immense to stir, so immense and old

That past nightfall I dared not cast

The narrator here, is no more the juvenile who saw 'jungled weed' in his glass tank. He is the poet

imagintively going back in time. The deep dark pond of the past in which he is 'fishing' resembles (and

is perhaps inspired by) Edward Thomas's

'The Combe:

.But far more dark

The combe looks since they killed the badger there, Dug him out and gave him to the hounds,

That most ancinet Briton of English beasts.

The quiet comment on the heartloss cruety and violence of men for all their apparently age-old civilisation, is paralleled by Hughes's sedate tone of narration and its content in which terrible pike stand for all the primitive savagery and eveil force of men lurking under superficial civilisation. The poet is scared of 'fishing' by night, as the nightmare experience might quell his aspiration. Hughes is with Carl Jung in seeing a positive effect in a dream which is our culture's bargain for unfulfilled aspirations. Pike is a dream-like poem, as it 'fishes' in stilled legendary depth', 'as deep as England'. The dream. vision from the pond is terrifying. The human world of the poet isinvaded by imagined and articulated spirits from the marine world hidden in the depths of time.

The poem is a controlled dream to fathom the archetypal depths of the poet's unconscious, to fish' up to the conscious surface. This is essential as the poet's signle angle of vision, circumscribes the whole truth as his own buried demon of unconscious, has to be released for the sake of his own wholeness:

the dream

Darkness beneath night's darkness had freed,

That rose slowly towards me, watching.

In the process of this dream-fishing there is the 'psycho-drama' set in motion by the accusing eye.

'But silently cast and fished

With the haid frozen on my head

for what might move, for what eye might move.

Afraid of casting his angle-rod (or net) openly, the poet 'silentlly' fishes tensely and intently for the stating eye'. Both the 'Jaguar and the Thought Fox have such accusing eyes. But in Pike it is sought in the recesses of the poet's unconscious. The ambiguity of 'For what might move, for what eye move, expresses the tension of the interior drama of the poet's mind in which the staring eye is inescapably present. The eye could be the angler's which steadily causes the fish in the pond to move.

might

On it is the accusing eye of the fish itself which the angler's sixth sense, perceives. The mesmerized stare of the crowd at the cage in 'The Jaguar', as a 'Child at a dream', the eye of the jaguar itself, blind to its victimised unfreedom, the thought-eye creeping into ' the dark-hole of the head' in The Thought Fox, stage the same flashy 'psychodrama' between the unconscious and the conscious. The pike as it manifests itself in the predator-angler's consciousness, is both a victim and an accuser. As a victim, its stare is mesmerized, as an accuser, its stare is fixed and unwavering. The last five lines of the poem suggest without prevarication the complete inner struggle between possession and power:

TED HUGHES

"The still splashes on the dark pond, Owls hushing the floating woods Frail on my ear against the dream

Darkness beneath night's darkness had freed,

That rose slowly towards me watching'.

The stare of the other self is here a 'dream' of the cultural and individual unconscious. It challenges the conscious life of the self and its security. As the external world begins to fade out and weaken its hold, the dream gains in strength and the unconscious power, symbolised by the pike, is freed or released. It accuses the self of violent predacity. The poem closes as the battle between the id and the ego begins. The reader is left to reflect upon experience which is neither objective nor subjective, as an inner tension

dramatises the conflict between the divided selves..

## ‘The Thought-Fox’

## Ted Hughes’

I imagine this midnight moment's forest:
Something else is alive
Beside the clock's loneliness
And this blank page where my fingers move.

Through the window I see no star:
Something more near
Though deeper within darkness
Is entering the loneliness:

Cold, delicately as the dark snow
A fox's nose touches twig, leaf;
Two eyes serve a movement, that now
And again now, and now, and now

Sets neat prints into the snow
Between trees, and warily a lame
Shadow lags by stump and in hollow
Of a body that is bold to come

Across clearings, an eye,
A widening deepening greenness,
Brilliantly, concentratedly,
Coming about its own business

Till, with a sudden sharp hot stink of fox
It enters the dark hole of the head.
The window is starless still; the clock ticks,
The page is printed.

'The Thought-Fox' is one of the most famous poems by Ted Hughes (1930-98). It is also one of the most celebrated poetic accounts of the act of writing poetry, or rather, more accurately, trying to write poetry and the arrival of inspiration. You can read 'The Thought-Fox' **here**. Below we sketch out our interpretation of the poem, analysing its language and meaning.

## 'The Thought-Fox': summary

'The Thought-Fox' explores and analyses the writer's struggle for inspiration, which is depicted in the poem by the fox. In summary, the speaker of the poem sits and tries to write a poem, the sound of the ticking clock and the blank page before him taunting him. He casts around for inspiration, but rejects the typical poetic trope of the stars ('I see no star'), instead sensing the arrival of a fox into his 'loneliness'.

The fox is described in terms of its nose, its eyes, its paws leaving prints in the snow (the whiteness of the snow similar to the blankness of the white page in front of the poet), suggesting that the poet's imagining of the creature is coming in partial details, much as inspiration often arrives gradually though vividly. (Unless you're Archimedes, there is no Eureka moment – or not many.)

The poem ends with the whole fox becoming fully formed in the poet's mind's eye – or rather not just his eye but his nose too ('sudden sharp hot stink of fox'). The poet successfully writes his poem, as if printing his words across the white page is simply a case of mirroring the paw-prints of the animal across the snow.

The window remains 'starless': old-fashioned and clichéd poetic tropes were not required here. The poem is written – as, indeed, 'The Thought-Fox', a truly meta-poem, is now complete.

## 'The Thought-Fox': context and origins

Curiously, the poem had its origins in one of the most significant events of Hughes's young life. While he was studying English at the University of Cambridge, Hughes found that studying poetry was having a deleterious effect on his own poetry: he was writing virtually no new poetry, because he felt suffocated by the 'terrible, suffocating, maternal octopus' of literary tradition.

Poets often have a complex and fraught relationship with literary tradition: see T. S. Eliot's paradoxical argument that it is only through soaking himself in the tradition of English poetry that a new poet can find his or her distinctive voice, his 'individual talent'. Hughes's octopus image (it would be an animal metaphor, of course) suggests that he had a quite different attitude to literary tradition than Eliot, needing to feel free to create his own work.

But it was another animal, the fox, that made up Hughes's mind for him. While trying to work on a literary-critical essay for his degree, Hughes retired to bed at 2am, having been unable to write the essay. That night, he had a dream that a large fox walked into his room, its eyes filled with pain. It came up to his desk, laid a bleeding hand on the blank page where Hughes had tried and failed to write his essay, and said: 'Stop this – you are destroying us.'

Hughes, who had a lifelong interest in portents, took this as a sign. In his third year, he transferred from English to anthropology and archaeology – and his poetry-writing took off again. This story probably provided Hughes with the genesis for 'The Thought-Fox' – a poem in which Hughes struggles, not to write an analysis of a poem, but the poem itself.

## ‘The Thought-Fox’: analysis

One of the most striking things about Hughes’s poem is the subtle way in which it summons up classic animal poems by previous poets. In the description of the fox’s eyes, we can glimpse **the burning eyes of Blake’s ‘Tyger’**; and in that opening line, ‘I imagine this midnight moment’s forest’, it is possible to detect an echo of the opening line of **Gerard Manley Hopkins’s celebrated poem ‘The Windhover’**: ‘I caught this morning morning’s minion…’

It is fitting that, in a poem about trying to write a poem, Hughes should suggest the achievements of previous poets who, before him, found themselves faced with a similar challenge of how to write a new poem in one’s own style.

Although the world of academic literary criticism was not for him, the reading of previous poets (and especially nature poets) was of great importance for Hughes.

These allusions aside, the language and phrasing of ‘The Thought-Fox’ are curious for their peculiar quality of being at once familiar and strange: they seem to be well-worn phrases but there is something ever so slightly different about them.

For example, ‘Coming about its own business’ subtly alters, and renders strange, the common form of the idiom (*going* about one’s own business), while ‘hole of the head’ stands between ‘whole of the head’ (suggesting the way in which the thought-fox’s presence fills and occupies the poet’s mind) and ‘hole in the head’ (something useless, which, until the fox’s arrival, the poet’s mind largely was, empty of ideas as it was).

The poem’s unrhymed structure allows rhyme to come knocking at the door in the form of eye-rhyme (*snow/now*, *eye/concentratedly*), half-rhyme (*fox/ticks*), and repetition (*now/now*), with *snow* merging into the moment of *now*, which is lingered on a moment (with *now* repeated at the end of two successive lines, as well as twice more within the line), before melting back into *snow*.

Things are flitting, tenuous: ‘movement’ offers a slight revision of ‘moment’ (‘midnight moment’s forest’), while the fox’s ‘prints’ in the snow foreshadow the act of *printing* the poem on the page: ‘The page is printed.’ Although the poem is written in free verse, Hughes retains the regular form of the quatrain, with each stanza composed of four lines.

# Dylan Marlais Thomas

**Dylan Marlais Thomas** (27 October 1914 – 9 November 1953) was a Welsh poet and writer whose works include the poems "Do not go gentle into that good night" and

"And death shall have no dominion", as well as the "play for voices" *Under Milk Wood*. He also wrote stories and radio broadcasts such as *A Child's Christmas in Wales* and *Portrait of the Artist as a Young Dog*. He became widely popular in his lifetime and remained so after his death at the age of 39 in New York City. By then, he had acquired a reputation, which he had encouraged, as a "roistering, drunken and doomed poet".

Thomas was born in Swansea, Wales, in 1914. In 1931, when he was 16, Thomas, an undistinguished pupil, left school to become a reporter for the *South Wales Daily Post*. Many of his works appeared in print while he was still a teenager. In 1934, the publication of "Light breaks where no sun shines" caught the attention of the literary world. While living in London, Thomas met Caitlin Macnamara. They married in 1937 and had three children: Llewelyn, Aeronwy, and Colm.

He came to be appreciated as a popular poet during his lifetime, though he found earning a living as a writer difficult. He began augmenting his income with reading tours and radio broadcasts. His radio recordings for the BBC during the late 1940s brought him to the public's attention, and he was frequently featured by the BBC as an accessible voice of the literary scene.

Thomas first travelled to the United States in the 1950s. His readings there brought him a degree of fame, while his erratic behaviour and drinking worsened. His time in the United States cemented his legend, and he went on to record to vinyl such works as *A Child's Christmas in Wales*. During his fourth trip to New York in 1953, Thomas became gravely ill and fell into a coma. He died on 9 November 1953 and his body was returned to Wales. On 25 November 1953, he was interred at St Martin's churchyard in Laugharne, Carmarthenshire..

Early Life of the author

Dylan Thomas was born on 27 October 1914 in Swansea the son of Florence Hannah , a seamstress, and David John 'Jack' Thomas (1876–1952), a teacher. His father had a first-class honours degree in English from University College, Aberystwyth, and ambitions to rise above his position teaching English literature at the local grammar school. Thomas had one sibling, Nancy Marles (1906–1953), who was eight years his senior.

At the 1921 census, Nancy and Dylan are noted as speaking both Welsh and English. Their parents were also bilingual in English and Welsh, and Jack Thomas taught Welsh at evening classes One of their Swansea relations has recalled that, at home, "Both Auntie Florrie and Uncle Jack always spoke Welsh." There are two accounts from the 1940s of Dylan singing Welsh hymns and songs, and of speaking a little Welsh.

Thomas's father chose the name Dylan, which could be translated as "son of the sea" after Dylan ail Don, a character in *The Mabinogion*.[16] His middle name, Marlais, was given in honour of his great-uncle, William Thomas, a Unitarian minister and poet whose bardic name was Gwilym Marles. Dylan, pronounced ˈ (Dull-an) in Welsh,

caused his mother to worry that he might be teased as the "dull one". When he broadcast on Welsh BBC early in his career, he was introduced using this pronunciation. Thomas favoured the Anglicised pronunciation and gave instructions that it should be Dillan /ˈdɪlən/.

The red-brick semi-detached house at 5 Cwmdonkin Drive (in the respectable area of the Uplands), in which Thomas was born and lived until he was 23, had been bought by his parents a few months before his birth.

**Childhood**

Thomas has written a number of accounts of his childhood growing up in Swansea,[21] and there are also accounts available by those who knew him as a young child.[22] Thomas wrote several poems about his childhood and early teenage years, including "Once it was the colour of saying" and "The hunchback in the park", as well as short stories such as *The Fight* and *A Child's Christmas in Wales*.

Thomas' four grandparents played no part in his childhood.[24] For the first ten years or so of his life, Thomas' Swansea aunts and uncles helped with his upbringing. These were his mother's three siblings, Polly and Bob, who lived in the St Thomas district of Swansea[25] and Theodosia, and her husband, the Rev. David Rees, in Newton, Swansea, where parishioners recall Thomas sometimes staying for a month or so at a time.[26] All four aunts and uncles spoke Welsh and English.

Thomas' childhood also featured regular summer trips to the Llansteffan peninsula, a Welsh-speaking part of Carmarthenshire. In the land between Llangain and Llansteffan, his mother's family, the Williamses and their close relatives, worked a dozen farms with over a thousand acres between them. The memory of Fernhill, a dilapidated 15-acre farm rented by his maternal aunt, Ann Jones, and her husband, Jim Jones, is evoked in the 1945 lyrical poem "Fern Hill" but is portrayed more accurately in his short story, *The Peaches*. Thomas also spent part of his summer holidays with Jim's sister, Rachel Jones, at neighbouring Pentrewyman farm, where he spent his time riding Prince the cart horse, chasing pheasants and fishing for trout.

All these relatives were bi-lingual, and many worshipped at Smyrna chapel in Llangain where the services were always in Welsh, including Sunday School which Thomas sometimes attended. There is also an account of the young Thomas being taught how to swear in Welsh. His schoolboy friends recalled that "It was all Welsh—and the children played in Welsh...he couldn't speak English when he stopped at Fernhill...in all his surroundings, everybody else spoke Welsh..." At the 1921 census, 95% of residents in the two parishes around Fernhill were Welsh speakers. Across the whole peninsula, 13%—more than 200 people—spoke only Welsh.

A few fields south of Fernhill lay Blaencwm, a pair of stone cottages to which his mother's Swansea siblings had retired, and with whom the young Thomas and his sister, Nancy, would sometimes stay. A couple of miles down the road from Blaencwm is the village of Llansteffan, where Thomas used to holiday at Rose Cottage with another Welsh-speaking aunt, Anne Williams, his mother's half-sister who had married into

local gentry.[42] Anne's daughter, Doris, married a dentist, Randy Fullylove. The young Dylan also holidayed with them in Abergavenny, where Fulleylove had his practice.

**Education**

The main surviving structure of the former Swansea Grammar School on Mount Pleasant, mostly destroyed during the Swansea Blitz of 1941, was renamed the Dylan Thomas Building in 1988 to honour its former pupil. It was then part of the former Swansea Metropolitan University campus.Memorial plaque on the former Mount Pleasant site of Swansea Grammar School. Thomas's formal education began at Mrs Hole's dame school, a private school on Mirador Crescent, a few streets away from his home.[56] He described his experience there in *Reminiscences of Childhood*:

Never was there such a dame school as ours, so firm and kind and smelling of galoshes, with the sweet and fumbled music of the piano lessons drifting down from upstairs to the lonely schoolroom, where only the sometimes tearful wicked sat over undone sums, or to repent a little crime – the pulling of a girl's hair during geography, the sly shin kick under the table during English literature. Alongside dame school, Thomas also took private lessons from Gwen James, an elocution teacher who had studied at drama school in London, winning several major prizes. She also taught "Dramatic Art" and "Voice Production", and would often help cast members of the Swansea Little Theatre (see below) with the parts they were playing. Thomas's parents' storytelling and dramatic talents, as well as their theatre-going interests, could also have contributed to the young Thomas's interest in performance. In October 1925, Thomas enrolled at Swansea Grammar School for boys, in Mount Pleasant, where his father taught English.[60] He was an undistinguished pupil who shied away from school, preferring reading and drama activities. In his first year one of his poems was published in the school's magazine, and before he left he became its editor. Thomas' various contributions to the school magazine can be found here:

**Do Not Go Gentle Into That Good Night Summary**

Do Not Go Gentle Into That Good Night" is a 1951 poem by Welsh poet Dylan Thomas. Dedicated to his father, the poem is considered a son's plea to his dying father to maintain a zeal for life in the face of death. In a broader sense, the poem celebrates the vivacity and joy of human life despite its fleetingness. "Do Not Go Gentle Into That Good Night" takes its name from its opening sentence, which suggests that people should not go willingly to death or "gentle into that good night," in other words. The poem comprises six stanzas in which the speaker categorizes men into four classes: wise men, good men, wild men, and grave men, with the intention of offering the reader a peek into the minds of such men as they near death. Throughout the poem, the speaker dissuades those facing death from succumbing without a fight, an effort evoked predominantly by the speaker's repeated plea that they should "rage, rage against the dying of the light." All the while, the speaker acknowledges that death is unavoidable.

Despite this acknowledgement, the speaker maintains that people should not give in and accept death so easily.

In the second stanza, the speaker suggests that "wise men" do not give in to death easily because they feel they have not given enough during their life and could have done more to improve the world. Nothing they have said or done has been as powerful or impactful as something like a lightning bolt, so they refuse to "go gentle into that good night." In the third stanza, the speaker similarly suggests that good people resist death, feeling they could have accomplished more. Seeing their last moments pass them by like a wave, they mourn the small actions that might have made a significant difference in the world. According to the speaker, "wild men," or those who have lived life to the fullest, appreciating its beauty and complexity, realize too late that the sun is leaving them behind and so refuse to peacefully welcome death now that they are faced with their own mortality. In the final stanza, the poem becomes more personal as the speaker addresses their father, who is approaching death as if on the precipice of a mountain, with the same request: to approach death with defiance and a passion for living.

**Do Not Go Gentle Into That Good Night Themes**

### Family and Grief

"Do Not Go Gentle Into That Good Night" is largely impersonal until the poem's final stanza. The speaker suddenly switches gears, addressing a father approaching death. When the speaker addresses the father, the poem feels not universal, but more personal and emotional.

In the final stanza, the poem becomes not only about death but about family and grief. The poem has switched from a universal message about facing death to an emotionally-charged message that is just as much about the speaker and his own grief as it is about those he addresses.

### Life & Death

The primary sentiment of "Do Not Go Gentle Into That Good Night" is that life is precious and should be fought for at every turn. The poem's speaker offers insight into how to face death with dignity and ferocity rather than resignation, believing that people should "burn and rave" as they approach death. Throughout the poem, the speaker describes a series of people who only realize when confronted with death that they have not accomplished all they wanted to throughout their life. For example, the men who "caught and sang the sun in flight" lived their lives joyously but recklessly.

When faced with death, they are overcome with regrets about their frivolous behavior and squandered opportunities to appreciate life as it was happening. Through these examples, the speaker earnestly urges people to live life to its fullest before it is

too late, believing that only on their deathbed do many people realize just how precious life is. While death is inevitable, it must be fought bravely against as a token of respect to the sanctity of life. The White Horse Tavern has a rich history as a regular haunt for writers dating back to the 1950s when Dylan Thomas became arguably the tavern's most famous regular patron.

**Conclusion**

"Do Not Go Gentle Into That Good Night," poet Dylan Thomas uses nighttime as a me death, and anguishes over his father's willing acceptance of it. He urges his father to "R against the dying of the light," i.e. the onset of night, or as it is used here, death. This poem the most famous villanelles every written in the English language. A villanelles is 19 li consisting of five stanzas of three lines each and concluding with a four line stanza. A villan only two rhymes, while repeating two lines throughout the poem, which then appear toget conclusion of the last stanza. The two lines repeated in this work are "Rage, rage against the the light" and "Do not go gentle into that good night." The poet begins by proposing that t should not easily accept their demise ("go gentle"), that they should fight it with vigor and ("Old age should burn and rave at the close of day"). The choice of the words "burn" a suggest an uncontrolled, irrational response to imminent death, the incoherent expenditure energy directed at a hopeless goal.

Yet for the author, this seemingly senseless display is preferable to docile submissio "close of day". The son is seeing his father slowly wither before him, and he mourns the vibrancy in the old man. Thomas knows that death is unavoidable, even "good", but he concede that meekness must precede it. Thomas refuses this concession because the subje father, and he cannot bear to see his once strong parent as impotent and shriveling in months. At the end of the first stanza he urges his father to "Rage, rage against the dyin light", again choosing a word that evokes an image of furious, even violent intensity. In the "the close of day" and "the dying of the light", Thomas shows us the extinguishing of the su and the approach of darkness as a metaphor for death, in that it is both natural and inevitable. encourages his father to resist death by providing examples of four different types of men wh against this inevitable end. The four examples are a broad cross section of men that one m worthy of emulating, and Thomas hopes that his father will emulate their vain resistance to In the second stanza, Thomas points to "wise men" that know that death is the natural en ("right"). And because the light of their great words had no impact on even a single bolt of ("their words had forked no lightning"), they "Do not go gentle into that good night". The "w everyone else must die, but here they do battle right up to the very end, so as to allow the more opportunities for greatness.

He then points to "good men" that, having seen their final great moment disappear int ("the last wave by" and knowing that their good deeds came to naught, when they might h brightly, as if they were rays of sunlight reflected by countless ripples on the green bay "m danced in a green bay" still "Rage, rage against the dying of the light." In the fourth stanza he the example of the "wild men" that lived life full of mirth and vivacity "who caught and sa

in flight" only to discover "too late" how their lives were, in fact, full of grief "And learn they grieved it on its way" still "Do not go gentle into that good night." Here Thomas uses of catching the sun in flight and singing to paint a picture of flighty, irresponsible men wh take account of their days. Finally, he tells of "grave men" taken literally, "men of the grave" exactly what all of these men are about to become, serious men that hover near death with l that yet see with tremendous insight "who see with blinding sight", continuing to "Rage, ra the dying of the light." Perhaps the grave men "see" that death is the end, that there is n chance and that one must make all one can of the moments available to us. The use of allit the simile "Blind eyes could blaze like meteors and be gay" draws our attention to the ability be physically sightless and still have life in one's eyes.

This is in sharp contrast to those, even some quite young, who live but have no life in t They step cautiously through life, trying to make it safely to death. Thomas closes the poe upon his father on the precipice of death. He begs his father to "Curse, bless me now with y tears," proclaiming that anything vibrant directed at him by his father, be it a blessing or a long as it was accompanied by intensity, would be preferable to what he sees. In the end, with his dying parent to rise and fight, to refuse to submit to death. "Do not go gentle into night. Rage, rage against the dying of the light." Human nature instinctively struggles to pre even when the issue seems decided. It is this self-preservation reflex that enabled our s survive harsh environments, and enables individuals to survive life-threatening situations to natural therefore, for Thomas to be unnerved by the sight of his father betraying his instinct to life. The form Thomas has chosen for this work, the villanelles, allows the poet to build slowly, rhythmically, while continuing to reinforce his central message of violent, hopeless to the inevitable. Thomas knows that death must and will come, but watching his father insignificance before him, he also feels the human need to flail against it, to flare out in the rather than sputter to an ignominious end.

# Hawk Roosting

**Ted Hughes**

I sit in the top of the wood, my eyes closed.
Inaction, no falsifying dream
Between my hooked head and hooked feet:
Or in sleep rehearse perfect kills and eat.

The convenience of the high trees!
The air's buoyancy and the sun's ray
Are of advantage to me;
And the earth's face upward for my inspection.

My feet are locked upon the rough bark.
It took the whole of Creation
To produce my foot, my each feather:
Now I hold Creation in my foot

Or fly up, and revolve it all slowly -
I kill where I please because it is all mine.
There is no sophistry in my body:
My manners are tearing off heads -

The allotment of death.
For the one path of my flight is direct
Through the bones of the living.
No arguments assert my right:

The sun is behind me.
Nothing has changed since I began.
My eye has permitted no change.
I am going to keep things like this.

## *Hawk Roosting*

"Hawk Roosting" is from Ted Hughes's second book, Lupercal, published in 1960. It is one of the earliest poems in which Hughes used animals to imply the nature of man and to spark thought about just how much of man's behavior is instinctual, as opposed to how much of man is ruled by his divine, or God-like, side. The hawk, who is the first-person speaker of this poem, speaks entirely of instinctual actions, giving examples of actions that are natural to hawks but repugnant to creatures of conscience: "my manners are tearing off heads," he says, and "the one path of my flight is direct / Through the bones of the living." The stark lack of emotion in this voice, along with the intelligence of the word choices and the pride the hawk feels for itself, have led some readers to believe that the author's intention in writing this poem was to glorify violence, or at least to make violent behavior acceptable. Hughes answered this charge directly in a 1971 interview. "Actually what I had in mind was that in this hawk Nature

is thinking. Simply Nature. It's not so simple because maybe Nature is no longer so simple." Whether or not the poem expresses approval of the behavior that its speaker describes is debatable; a strong argument may be presented for each viewpoint.

## Author Biography

On August 17, 1930, Hughes was born in Mytholomroyd, a town located in the West Riding

district of Yorkshire; he was the third child of William Henry and Edith Farrar Hughes. Mytholomroyd is situated in a valley deep within the Pennine Mountains beneath a large cliff, and later in his life Hughes depicted the scene in his writings and related his experiences exploring the surrounding moors and hunting small game with his brother. When Hughes was seven years old, his family moved to Mexborough, a town in South Yorkshire, where he began attending school and was encouraged by his teachers to write poetry. Hughes was awarded a scholarship to Cambridge University in 1948, but he opted to serve in the Royal Air Force (RAF) before pursuing higher education. He served two years as a ground wireless mechanic at a remote RAF radio station, where, by his own admission, he spent most of his time reading Shakespeare. In 1951 Hughes began his studies in English literature at Cambridge's Pembroke College, which he continued for two years before spending his third and final year at Cambridge engaged in the study of archaeology and anthropology. After leaving college, Hughes resided in London and Cambridge, where he held a variety of jobs, including stints as a rose gardener, schoolteacher, and zoo attendant. During this period, Hughes cultivated a number of friendships with literary figures of the time and published several poems in literary periodicals. In 1956 he met American poet Sylvia Plath, and after a courtship that lasted only four months, the two were married on June 16. Plath introduced Hughes to contemporary American poetry and encouraged him to submit his manuscript for The Hawk in the Rain to an American literary contest. Hughes's manuscript was selected out of 287 entries by the judges, noted authors W. H. Auden, Stephen Spender, and Marianne Moore, and was published in both the United States and England in 1957.

From 1957 until 1959 Hughes and Plath lived in the United States, where they both became college instructors—Hughes at the University of Massachusetts and Plath at her alma mater, Smith College—before deciding against academic careers. The couple returned to England in December, 1959, and in April, 1960 their daughter Frieda was born in London. In January, 1962 the couple's son Nicholas Farrar was born in a small mid-Devon village, where the couple resided in a cottage. Although reportedly the Hugheses' marriage was rewarding in many ways, there were difficulties, and they ultimately separated and planned to divorce. Plath returned to live in London, where she committed suicide in February, 1963. Hughes was devastated, and wrote little poetry during the three years following Plath's death. Hughes carefully edited and promoted his late wife's poetry and journals, and is primarily responsible for the success of Plath's posthumously published works. During the late 1960s, Hughes again

began to write prolifically, and published several works of poetry and prose before the close of the decade. In March, 1969, Hughes's companion, Assia Gutman, killed herself, taking her young daughter with her; Hughes's sorrow over this loss and the earlier loss of Plath is reflected in his works. Hughes married his second wife, Carol Orchard, in 1970 and took up residence on a farm in Devon, where he began raising sheep and cattle. Throughout the 1970s and 1980s, Hughes continued to publish poetry, prose, drama, literary criticism, and works for children, as well as editing the works of Plath and other writers. Hughes's works have garnered numerous awards throughout his career; he received the Guinness Poetry Awards first prize in 1958, a Guggenheim fellowship in 1959, the Somerset Maugham Award in 1960, the Premio Internazionale Taormina in 1973, and the Queen's Medal for Poetry in 1974. In addition to these awards, Hughes had conferred upon him the Order of the British Empire in 1977, and in 1984 he was named Great Britain's Poet Laureate.

**Poem Summary**

**Lines 1-4**

"The wood" in line 1 refers to a forest, as in the American expression "the woods." Seated in a treetop, the hawk is able to look down on the world like a king. Hughes establishes the hawk's personality in the first line, though, by describing it as having its eyes closed: the hawk is impressed with neither the vastness of the world nor with itself for being above the world. This hawk has no "falsifying dreams" about anything being better or worse than it really is. In line 3, the imagery, or physical symbol of the bird being "hooked" at top and bottom not only reminds the reader of the physical appearance of the bird, but also emphasizes the sharp parts of the bird that are used for attacking and killing. In addition, the use of "feet" instead of "claws" creates a link in the reader's mind between the hawk's life and human existence; this sort of connection is called personification.

The hawk's claim in line 2 that it has no falsifying dreams is contradicted by its statement in line 4 that it rehearses "perfect" kills in his sleep. Critics have pointed out that, although this hawk is supposed to be an impersonal killing machine, it has too much self-consciousness for us to consider it to be motivated by instinct alone. The hawk has an opinion about what would be perfection in killing, which shows that it is not outside of the sphere of morality, despite its claim to the contrary.

**Lines 5-8**

In its tone, this stanza displays a sense of self-importance that matches the hawk's physical position above the world. The words "convenience," "buoyancy," "advantage," and "inspection" are all examples of elevated, sophisticated diction. Spoken by the hawk, these words indicate that it is a very intelligent bird. This use of language implies that the hawk is mentally as well as physically superior. In line 8, the hawk uses the word "face" to give human qualities to the earth, and it says not only that it can see the earth's face but that it is there "for my inspection," as if the earth awaits the hawk's inspection.

**Lines 9-12**

"Creation," because it is capitalized, refers not just to all that exists, but to God, since references to God or pronouns that stand for God are usually capitalized. The understanding of God here is less specific than the images usually accepted by major religions. In the third stanza, there are three mentions of the hawk's feet. The first is a somewhat simple one, linking the hawk to its natural habitat, which is portrayed as a difficult one through the use of the word "rough." In the second mention, the hawk asserts that it is not just part of the world, but the end of, the reason for all that exists. In line 12, the hawk takes this self-important view even further, implying that since it exists as the summation of all that is, it is superior even to God. According to such reasoning, God and other beings are not recognized as having any more will or desire than the tree's bark has. The hawk sees others as creatures performing their specific functions, just as it performs its function when it kills. Presumably, in this worldview, the hawk's victims understand that it has no purpose but to kill them

**Lines 13-16**

"Sophistry" is reasoning that is clever and seems to be well-founded, but in actuality is hollow and false. When the hawk says in line 15, "There is no sophistry in my body," it is indicating that the body does not reason badly because it does not reason at all; it acts. In this way, the poem

seems to express the idea that any amount of reasoning will have some falseness to it and that the only way to avoid falseness is to avoid reasoning. The author has responded to criticisms that "Hawk Roosting" seems to approve of cruelty by saying that he only wanted the hawk to show what "Nature is thinking." If nature's thoughts are direct and without reason (such as "I see the mouse, I kill the mouse"), then this poem could be seen as a record of responses to physical stimuli. However, the hawk has ideas about the ways of the world ("I kill where I please because it is all mine") that seem to come from the exact sort of sophistry that the hawk denies. Similarly, line 16 uses language that is intentionally harsh ("tearing off their heads," rather than a more impartially descriptive phrase like "removing heads," which would match the diction of stanza 2). The hawk appears quite conscious of the fact that its actions are vicious, and almost seems to enjoy it.

**Lines 17-20**

Each stanza of this poem begins with a direct, declarative statement that is brought to a stop at the end of the first line with punctuation. Lines such as these are called "end-stopped lines." An end-stopped line that brings the flow of the poem to a halt just as the stanza is beginning gives the speaker's tone a cold sharpness, as if the speaker is stating conditions and making demands rather than having a conversation with the reader. In line 17 this technique is used to make the hawk's position on killing seem absolute and undisputable. As with the earlier reference to "the whole of Creation" (line 10), this stanza makes absolute statements such as "the one path," "direct," "through" (as opposed to "into"), and "No arguments" to convey the hawk's unhesitating certainty.

In line 20 the hawk says that the rights it is entitled to are not the product of any arguments, implying that it has undeniable rights and that these rights are more important than anything, including God. This echoes the claim made in lines 18 and 19. Both lines emphasize a division between rationality and nature (referred to here as Creation), implying that man, as a rational creature, is separate and distinct from the natural world and from God.

**Lines 21-24**

In lines 1, 5, 9, and 21 this poem intermittently establishes a setting for the hawk who is speaking. The image in line 21 is especially notable because it does not emphasize the hawk's viewpoint but specifically tells us about something, the sun, that is out of the range of the hawk's vision. For the reader who is imagining a hawk on a tree branch, this detail helps to paint a picture, but given the hawk's self-centered attitude throughout the poem, that it would mention something it does not see is unusual. To some extent, the perspective in this stanza is not just the hawk's, but an objective point of view that is spoken through the hawk's "I." This is seen in the difference between lines 22 and 23: line 22 is an impartial statement, and line 23 expresses the same basic idea, but through the hawk's all-encompassing ego. In making these two statements, one a passive observation and the other an aggressive claim, this poem draws attention to the different degrees of animal mentality that it offers. The final line is pure arrogance, extending the hawk's previous claims about being the center of all that came before and all that currently exists to include all that will come to be

## Themes

### Death

The hawk is a cunning and silent death from above, a bird of prey often portrayed as the noble killer who perches on top of the food chain. The poem begins with the regal image of the hawk sitting "on top of the wood … and the earth's face upward for my inspection." The theme of death in "Hawk Roosting" may be closely tied to its images of creation, as many religions also believe our lives on this earth are temporary. The hawk's speaking tone, with its elevated diction bordering on arrogance, combined with the bird's physical position overlooking the whole of its world, seem to place it firmly in control of life or death. Even the "Creation" which produced its claws and "each feather" now becomes its prey, gripped firmly in its talons.

While the subject of death is often weighted with grief and remorse, the hawk is emotionless in its discussion, referring to it as an "allotment," as if it were to be rationed out. There is no room for remorse in that small skull, since the bird's path toward survival "is direct / through the bones of the living."

**Violence and Cruelty**

Students first encountering Ted Hughes's work in the Norton Anthology of Modern Poetry are greeted with the following introduction: "Ted Hughes works within a subject-matter of violence, and his acknowledged talent in this area has evoked uneasy admiration." While "Hawk Roosting" does portray images of violence, as in the line "My manners are tearing off heads," this theme is balanced by a sort of nonchalant tone that diffuses the cruelty normally associated such a harsh act.

Some critics have called the hawk's ability to kill without remorse and speak of her killing with such casual ease proof the bird is symbolically a fascist, citing lines like "I kill where I please because it is all mine." Ted Hughes denies this, instead saying he intended the bird to represent "Nature thinking. Simply Nature." Hughes may have put himself (and the hawk) in the line of criticism by crafting the voice of the poem in first person. By making the bird the narrator, the reader feels as though he or she is listening to another person talking, and judges what is said accordingly.

Perhaps a central theme of "Hawk Roosting" is that violence and cruelty are really a matter of perspective: while to humans any harmful act upon another person is cruel, in nature there are laws of survival which can not or should not be judged in human terms.

**Natural Law**

When Hughes himself defended the hawk against accusations of cruelty and of even being a fascist, he said he rather intended the bird to represent "Simply Nature." Perhaps this means the poem's theme shows that while a human act of violence against another human can be judged as wrong, nature has its own set of laws. Hughes has said that we are too "corrupted" by Christian morality and judgment to be able to see nature. The hawk

doesn't kill out of anger, evil or greed, but out of pure survival, a need for "perfect kills and eat." The sense that the bird's actions follow a "Law" which should not be questioned are reinforced by lines that repeatedly refer to "legal" phrases, such as "my inspection," "sophistry" and "No arguments assert my right." Instead the hawk follows a natural law that has been in place for so long it will remain long after humans have left the earth. As the poem begins with "inaction," so it ends "nothing has changed since I began. / My eye has permitted no change. / I am going to keep things like this."

**Style**

This poem has no strict pattern to its rhythm or its rhyme scheme, thus it is considered an open form poem. However, the poem does make use of structural devices and repetition in other ways to make its point.

The most obvious structural pattern in "Hawk Roosting" is that there are four lines to each stanza, or cluster of lines. The lengths of the lines within each stanza are different, so the number of words in each stanza varies. Nevertheless, there is a visual consistency as the eye skims down the page. This degree of order corresponds to the poem's subject matter by giving the piece an overall design, just as the speaker of the

poem implies in stanza 3 that Creation has an overall design. A poem with a more rigid structure—for example, uniform rhythm in each line, or a regular rhyme scheme—would contradict the hawk's sense of being accountable to no one.

There are rhymes at the ends of the third and fourth lines in the first stanza and again in the first and third lines in the second. The fact that these are in the beginning of the poem, and that the poem never rhymes again, may indicate that the author intended his readers to think at first that this poem was more traditional in sentiment and structure than it really is in order to make the hawk's coldness more shocking. Throughout the poem there are internal rhymes, or rhyming words placed near each other but not at the ends of lines, such as "flight" and "right" in stanza 5. Many of these rhymes use assonance, in which the vowel sounds of the two words are alike, even though the end sounds of the words are not. Some examples of these are "sleep" and "eat" in stanza 1; "ray" and "face" in stanza 2; "took" and "foot" in stanza 3; and "began" and "am" in stanza 6. Such repetition of sounds allows the author to give a musical quality to the poem without adopting a rigid structure.

**Historical Context**

At the time "Hawk Roosting" was published in 1960, Ted Hughes was a fairly young poet. At only thirty years old, he was barely four years into his troubled marriage with fellow poet Sylvia Plath, a marriage that would end only three years later in bitter arguments, separation, and Plath's tragic suicide. Some critics point first to Hughes's biography to explain the nature of his often violent or cruel subject matter. While his relationship with the clinically depressed Sylvia Plath may account for the emotional tragedy that infuses his work, Hughes often contended that the natural world sustains itself on a different set of terms. Natural law is not to be judged on a scale of violence, but survival. As a boy Hughes regularly caught and tended wild animals around his home in Yorkshire, England. Perhaps this is why he "thinks of poems as a sort of animal [that] have a vivid life of their own, outside mine."

In order to get a better context of Hughes's work in 1960, it is important to note the poetic modes of the 1950s. With the publication of his first book, The Hawk in the Rain, in 1957, his work illustrated a strong move away from the popular poetic styles of the time. The stereotypical poem of the day was mostly domestic, mildly ironic, polite and understated. In contrast, Hughes hit the scene with almost Shakespearean language to explore themes that were more elemental and mythical. His bold and unflinching look at the natural world turned many heads, and younger poets began to follow his new path. Since then many poets have followed his lead into less self-conscious styles. Critics point out that from his earliest work to present, he has virtually ignored the social structures known as "manners," choosing instead to take on the root of man's relationship with man and the other living creatures which inhabit this planet.

In the years immediately preceding the publication of his second book, Lupercal, Ted Hughes and his wife lived in the United States. They both taught at universities for a short while, but quickly choose to dedicate their time to living frugally and writing. It was a period of great prosperity, hope, energy and power in the United

States, and it was still possible to live nominally on meager earnings in order to pursue artistic careers. Both poets finished books during that time, Hughes his second, and Plath her first, The Colossus.

In December, 1959, they returned to England, where they planned to settle permanently, moving into a small village. Their daughter Frieda was born in 1960. Unfortunately the happy times did not last for long. Within a few years and the birth of a second child, Nicholas, the two complex and talented personalities began to clash. Hughes began falling in love with another woman, and when Plath discovered the attachment, the marriage collapsed. They separated, and in February, 1963, Sylvia Plath committed suicide in London. Hughes, overcome by guilt, would not publish another book after Lupercal until 1957, dedicating his time wholly to editing and bringing Plath's work to posthumous publication.

**Compare & Contrast**

- **1960:** America's relationship with Cuba quickly deteriorates after Fidel Castro signs an agreement at Havana on February 13th with Soviet first deputy premier Anastas Mikoyan. The paper strongly ties the neighboring island to Communist Russia both politically and militarily. Tensions caused by both American and Russian threats of nuclear action over the tiny country later come to a head in a naval standoff known as "The Cuban Missile Crisis."

**1998:** Although Cuba is one of only a very small handful of Communist countries remaining, the relationship between Castro, still in power, and the American government, continues to get stronger. Castro shows a sign of goodwill by allowing the visit of Pope John Paul II, and American business investors pressure Washington to ease sanctions on Cuba so they may invest in the market there.

- **1960:** The first commercial lasers are introduced by Hughes Laboratory in Malibu, California. The laser, an acronymn that stands for "light amplification by stimulated emission of radiation," provides thousands of watts of energy in a single, consistent beam of light. They will be used for industrial metalwork cutting and welding.

**1998:** Lasers are widely used in a variety of diverse applications, from corrective eye and dental surgery to military targeting and "smart bombs." Scientists and science-fiction writers alike imagine lasers as being the eventual first line of defense against any stray asteroids heading toward Earth.

- **1960:** Domino's Pizza opens in Detroit. Local entrepreneur Thomas Monaghan, 23, borrows $500 to buy his first pizza parlor.

**1998:** Having grown to become a multi-million dollar business with thousands of franchises nationwide, Domino's has pioneered pizza delivery as we know it with "30 minutes or less" door-to-door service guarantees and its distinctive blue, red and white logos.

## Critical Overview

"Hawk Roosting" received its greatest amount of critical attention after it was republished in Hughes's Selected Poems: 1957-1967. By then, the poem was more than thirteen years old, and critics could study it as part of the overall pattern of Hughes's work. Critics are sharply divided over the effectiveness of "Hawk Roosting." Peter Meinke wrote a generally favorable review of Hughes's work in The New Republic: "[A]s a description of his own inner landscape, which we all touch on somewhere, Hughes' poems are completely compelling, but as a description of reality they suffer 'tunnel vision' …" Calvin Bedient wrote in The New York Times a month earlier (January 1974): "At his worst, [Hughes's] poems say 'TAKE THAT!' He seems to boast that he can swallow more gore and nothingness than anyone else on the block …" But criticisms such as these blame the author for narrowness and bleakness, which Hughes could easily defend as his intention. Worse yet is Marjorie Perloff's charge that "'Hawk Roosting' … has no meaningful reference to any conceivable situation." She explains this by pointing out a weak link in Hughes's poetry, that "in Hughes' poetic universe, the relation of the individual to the hostile, amoral violence that surrounds him remains obscure." Even worse than accusations of meaninglessness, though, are the critics who see "Hawk Roosting" as being pro-fascist. Although Hughes denied this claim, critic Robert Stuart responded that, because of a "lack of any note of self-awareness," there is hardly any way to understand the murderous hawk except as a fascist. The little written about the poem's technical and verbal skill is generally favorable, but many commentators do not accept the poem's neutral moral stance as being characteristic of good poetry.

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# sHawk Roosting

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The air's buoyancy and the sun's ray
Are of advantage to me;
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My feet are locked upon the rough bark.

It took the whole of Creation
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Or fly up, and revolve it all slowly -
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## Author Biography

On August 17, 1930, Hughes was born in Mytholomroyd, a town located in the West Riding

district of Yorkshire; he was the third child of William Henry and Edith Farrar Hughes. Mytholomroyd is situated in a valley deep within the Pennine Mountains beneath a large cliff, and later in his life Hughes depicted the scene in his writings and related his experiences exploring the surrounding moors and hunting small game with his brother. When Hughes was seven years old, his family moved to Mexborough, a town in South Yorkshire, where he began attending school and was encouraged by his teachers to write poetry. Hughes was awarded a scholarship to Cambridge University in 1948, but he opted to serve in the Royal Air Force (RAF) before pursuing higher education. He served two years as a ground wireless mechanic at a remote RAF radio station, where, by his own admission, he spent most of his time reading Shakespeare. In 1951 Hughes began his studies in English literature at Cambridge's Pembroke College, which he continued for two years before spending his third and final year at Cambridge engaged in the study of archaeology and anthropology. After leaving college, Hughes resided in London and Cambridge, where he held a variety of jobs, including stints as a rose gardener, schoolteacher, and zoo attendant. During this period, Hughes cultivated a number of friendships with literary figures of the time and published several poems in literary periodicals. In 1956 he met American poet Sylvia Plath, and after a courtship that lasted only four months, the two were married on June 16. Plath introduced Hughes to contemporary American poetry and encouraged him to submit his manuscript for The Hawk in the Rain to an American literary contest. Hughes's manuscript was selected out of 287 entries by the judges, noted authors W. H. Auden, Stephen Spender, and Marianne Moore, and was published in both the United States and England in 1957.

From 1957 until 1959 Hughes and Plath lived in the United States, where they both became college instructors—Hughes at the University of Massachusetts and Plath at her alma mater, Smith College—before deciding against academic careers. The couple returned to England in December, 1959, and in April, 1960 their daughter Frieda was born in London. In January, 1962 the couple's son Nicholas Farrar was born in a small mid-Devon village, where the couple resided in a cottage. Although reportedly the Hugheses' marriage was rewarding in many ways, there were difficulties, and they

ultimately separated and planned to divorce. Plath returned to live in London, where she committed suicide in February, 1963. Hughes was devastated, and wrote little poetry during the three years following Plath's death. Hughes carefully edited and promoted his late wife's poetry and journals, and is primarily responsible for the success of Plath's posthumously published works. During the late 1960s, Hughes again began to write prolifically, and published several works of poetry and prose before the close of the decade. In March, 1969, Hughes's companion, Assia Gutman, killed herself, taking her young daughter with her; Hughes's sorrow over this loss and the earlier loss of Plath is reflected in his works. Hughes married his second wife, Carol Orchard, in 1970 and took up residence on a farm in Devon, where he began raising sheep and cattle. Throughout the 1970s and 1980s, Hughes continued to publish poetry, prose, drama, literary criticism, and works for children, as well as editing the works of Plath and other writers. Hughes's works have garnered numerous awards throughout his career; he received the Guinness Poetry Awards first prize in 1958, a Guggenheim fellowship in 1959, the Somerset Maugham Award in 1960, the Premio Internazionale Taormina in 1973, and the Queen's Medal for Poetry in 1974. In addition to these awards, Hughes had conferred upon him the Order of the British Empire in 1977, and in 1984 he was named Great Britain's Poet Laureate.

**Poem Summary**

**Lines 1-4**

"The wood" in line 1 refers to a forest, as in the American expression "the woods." Seated in a treetop, the hawk is able to look down on the world like a king. Hughes establishes the hawk's personality in the first line, though, by describing it as having its eyes closed: the hawk is impressed with neither the vastness of the world nor with itself for being above the world. This hawk has no "falsifying dreams" about anything being better or worse than it really is. In line 3, the imagery, or physical symbol of the bird being "hooked" at top and bottom not only reminds the reader of the physical appearance of the bird, but also emphasizes the sharp parts of the bird that are used for attacking and killing. In addition, the use of "feet" instead of "claws" creates a link in the reader's mind between the hawk's life and human existence; this sort of connection is called personification.

The hawk's claim in line 2 that it has no falsifying dreams is contradicted by its statement in line 4 that it rehearses "perfect" kills in his sleep. Critics have pointed out that, although this hawk is supposed to be an impersonal killing machine, it has too much self-consciousness for us to consider it to be motivated by instinct alone. The hawk has an opinion about what would be perfection in killing, which shows that it is not outside of the sphere of morality, despite its claim to the contrary.

**Lines 5-8**

In its tone, this stanza displays a sense of self-importance that matches the hawk's physical position above the world. The words "convenience," "buoyancy," "advantage," and "inspection" are all examples of elevated, sophisticated diction. Spoken by the hawk, these words indicate that it is a very intelligent bird. This use of

language implies that the hawk is mentally as well as physically superior. In line 8, the hawk uses the word "face" to give human qualities to the earth, and it says not only that it can see the earth's face but that it is there "for my inspection," as if the earth awaits the hawk's inspection.

**Lines 9-12**

"Creation," because it is capitalized, refers not just to all that exists, but to God, since references to God or pronouns that stand for God are usually capitalized. The understanding of God here is less specific than the images usually accepted by major religions. In the third stanza, there are three mentions of the hawk's feet. The first is a somewhat simple one, linking the hawk to its natural habitat, which is portrayed as a difficult one through the use of the word "rough." In the second mention, the hawk asserts that it is not just part of the world, but the end of, the reason for all that exists. In line 12, the hawk takes this self-important view even further, implying that since it exists as the summation of all that is, it is superior even to God. According to such reasoning, God and other beings are not recognized as having any more will or desire than the tree's bark has. The hawk sees others as creatures performing their specific functions, just as it performs its function when it kills. Presumably, in this worldview, the hawk's victims understand that it has no purpose but to kill them

**Lines 13-16**

"Sophistry" is reasoning that is clever and seems to be well-founded, but in actuality is hollow and false. When the hawk says in line 15, "There is no sophistry in my body," it is indicating that the body does not reason badly because it does not reason at all; it acts. In this way, the poem

seems to express the idea that any amount of reasoning will have some falseness to it and that the only way to avoid falseness is to avoid reasoning. The author has responded to criticisms that "Hawk Roosting" seems to approve of cruelty by saying that he only wanted the hawk to show what "Nature is thinking." If nature's thoughts are direct and without reason (such as "I see the mouse, I kill the mouse"), then this poem could be seen as a record of responses to physical stimuli. However, the hawk has ideas about the ways of the world ("I kill where I please because it is all mine") that seem to come from the exact sort of sophistry that the hawk denies. Similarly, line 16 uses language that is intentionally harsh ("tearing off their heads," rather than a more impartially descriptive phrase like "removing heads," which would match the diction of stanza 2). The hawk appears quite conscious of the fact that its actions are vicious, and almost seems to enjoy it.

**Lines 17-20**

Each stanza of this poem begins with a direct, declarative statement that is brought to a stop at the end of the first line with punctuation. Lines such as these are called "end-stopped lines." An end-stopped line that brings the flow of the poem to a halt just as the stanza is beginning gives the speaker's tone a cold sharpness, as if the speaker is stating conditions and making demands rather than having a conversation with the reader. In line 17 this technique is used to make the hawk's position on killing seem absolute and undisputable. As with the earlier reference to "the whole of Creation" (line

10), this stanza makes absolute statements such as “the one path,” “direct,” “through” (as opposed to “into”), and “No arguments” to convey the hawk’s unhesitating certainty.

In line 20 the hawk says that the rights it is entitled to are not the product of any arguments, implying that it has undeniable rights and that these rights are more important than anything, including God. This echoes the claim made in lines 18 and 19. Both lines emphasize a division between rationality and nature (referred to here as Creation), implying that man, as a rational creature, is separate and distinct from the natural world and from God.

**Lines 21-24**

In lines 1, 5, 9, and 21 this poem intermittently establishes a setting for the hawk who is speaking. The image in line 21 is especially notable because it does not emphasize the hawk’s viewpoint but specifically tells us about something, the sun, that is out of the range of the hawk’s vision. For the reader who is imagining a hawk on a tree branch, this detail helps to paint a picture, but given the hawk’s self-centered attitude throughout the poem, that it would mention something it does not see is unusual. To some extent, the perspective in this stanza is not just the hawk’s, but an objective point of view that is spoken through the hawk’s “I.” This is seen in the difference between lines 22 and 23: line 22 is an impartial statement, and line 23 expresses the same basic idea, but through the hawk’s all-encompassing ego. In making these two statements, one a passive observation and the other an aggressive claim, this poem draws attention to the different degrees of animal mentality that it offers. The final line is pure arrogance, extending the hawk’s previous claims about being the center of all that came before and all that currently exists to include all that will come to be

## Themes

**Death**

The hawk is a cunning and silent death from above, a bird of prey often portrayed as the noble killer who perches on top of the food chain. The poem begins with the regal image of the hawk sitting “on top of the wood … and the earth’s face upward for my inspection.” The theme of death in “Hawk Roosting” may be closely tied to its images of creation, as many religions also believe our lives on this earth are temporary. The hawk’s speaking tone, with its elevated diction bordering on arrogance, combined with the bird’s physical position overlooking the whole of its world, seem to place it firmly in control of life or death. Even the “Creation” which produced its claws and “each feather” now becomes its prey, gripped firmly in its talons.

While the subject of death is often weighted with grief and remorse, the hawk is emotionless in its discussion, referring to it as an “allotment,” as if it were to be

rationed out. There is no room for remorse in that small skull, since the bird's path toward survival "is direct / through the bones of the living."

**Violence and Cruelty**

Students first encountering Ted Hughes's work in the Norton Anthology of Modern Poetry are greeted with the following introduction: "Ted Hughes works within a subject-matter of violence, and his acknowledged talent in this area has evoked uneasy admiration." While "Hawk Roosting" does portray images of violence, as in the line "My manners are tearing off heads," this theme is balanced by a sort of nonchalant tone that diffuses the cruelty normally associated such a harsh act.

Some critics have called the hawk's ability to kill without remorse and speak of her killing with such casual ease proof the bird is symbolically a fascist, citing lines like "I kill where I please because it is all mine." Ted Hughes denies this, instead saying he intended the bird to represent "Nature thinking. Simply Nature." Hughes may have put himself (and the hawk) in the line of criticism by crafting the voice of the poem in first person. By making the bird the narrator, the reader feels as though he or she is listening to another person talking, and judges what is said accordingly.

Perhaps a central theme of "Hawk Roosting" is that violence and cruelty are really a matter of perspective: while to humans any harmful act upon another person is cruel, in nature there are laws of survival which can not or should not be judged in human terms.

**Natural Law**

When Hughes himself defended the hawk against accusations of cruelty and of even being a fascist, he said he rather intended the bird to represent "Simply Nature." Perhaps this means the poem's theme shows that while a human act of violence against another human can be judged as wrong, nature has its own set of laws. Hughes has said that we are too "corrupted" by Christian morality and judgment to be able to see nature. The hawk

doesn't kill out of anger, evil or greed, but out of pure survival, a need for "perfect kills and eat." The sense that the bird's actions follow a "Law" which should not be questioned are reinforced by lines that repeatedly refer to "legal" phrases, such as "my inspection," "sophistry" and "No arguments assert my right." Instead the hawk follows a natural law that has been in place for so long it will remain long after humans have left the earth. As the poem begins with "inaction," so it ends "nothing has changed since I began. / My eye has permitted no change. / I am going to keep things like this."

**Style**

This poem has no strict pattern to its rhythm or its rhyme scheme, thus it is considered an open form poem. However, the poem does make use of structural devices and repetition in other ways to make its point.

The most obvious structural pattern in "Hawk Roosting" is that there are four lines to each stanza, or cluster of lines. The lengths of the lines within each stanza are different, so the number of words in each stanza varies. Nevertheless, there is a visual

consistency as the eye skims down the page. This degree of order corresponds to the poem's subject matter by giving the piece an overall design, just as the speaker of the poem implies in stanza 3 that Creation has an overall design. A poem with a more rigid structure—for example, uniform rhythm in each line, or a regular rhyme scheme—would contradict the hawk's sense of being accountable to no one.

There are rhymes at the ends of the third and fourth lines in the first stanza and again in the first and third lines in the second. The fact that these are in the beginning of the poem, and that the poem never rhymes again, may indicate that the author intended his readers to think at first that this poem was more traditional in sentiment and structure than it really is in order to make the hawk's coldness more shocking. Throughout the poem there are internal rhymes, or rhyming words placed near each other but not at the ends of lines, such as "flight" and "right" in stanza 5. Many of these rhymes use assonance, in which the vowel sounds of the two words are alike, even though the end sounds of the words are not. Some examples of these are "sleep" and "eat" in stanza 1; "ray" and "face" in stanza 2; "took" and "foot" in stanza 3; and "began" and "am" in stanza 6. Such repetition of sounds allows the author to give a musical quality to the poem without adopting a rigid structure.

**Historical Context**

At the time "Hawk Roosting" was published in 1960, Ted Hughes was a fairly young poet. At only thirty years old, he was barely four years into his troubled marriage with fellow poet Sylvia Plath, a marriage that would end only three years later in bitter arguments, separation, and Plath's tragic suicide. Some critics point first to Hughes's biography to explain the nature of his often violent or cruel subject matter. While his relationship with the clinically depressed Sylvia Plath may account for the emotional tragedy that infuses his work, Hughes often contended that the natural world sustains itself on a different set of terms. Natural law is not to be judged on a scale of violence, but survival. As a boy Hughes regularly caught and tended wild animals around his home in Yorkshire, England. Perhaps this is why he "thinks of poems as a sort of animal [that] have a vivid life of their own, outside mine."

In order to get a better context of Hughes's work in 1960, it is important to note the poetic modes of the 1950s. With the publication of his first book, The Hawk in the Rain, in 1957, his work illustrated a strong move away from the popular poetic styles of the time. The stereotypical poem of the day was mostly domestic, mildly ironic, polite and understated. In contrast, Hughes hit the scene with almost Shakespearean language to explore themes that were more elemental and mythical. His bold and unflinching look at the natural world turned many heads, and younger poets began to follow his new path. Since then many poets have followed his lead into less self-conscious styles. Critics point out that from his earliest work to present, he has virtually ignored the social structures known as "manners," choosing instead to take on the root of man's relationship with man and the other living creatures which inhabit this planet.

In the years immediately preceding the publication of his second book, Lupercal, Ted Hughes and his wife lived in the United States. They both taught at

universities for a short while, but quickly choose to dedicate their time to living frugally and writing. It was a period of great prosperity, hope, energy and power in the United States, and it was still possible to live nominally on meager earnings in order to pursue artistic careers. Both poets finished books during that time, Hughes his second, and Plath her first, The Colossus.

In December, 1959, they returned to England, where they planned to settle permanently, moving into a small village. Their daughter Frieda was born in 1960. Unfortunately the happy times did not last for long. Within a few years and the birth of a second child, Nicholas, the two complex and talented personalities began to clash. Hughes began falling in love with another woman, and when Plath discovered the attachment, the marriage collapsed. They separated, and in February, 1963, Sylvia Plath committed suicide in London. Hughes, overcome by guilt, would not publish another book after Lupercal until 1957, dedicating his time wholly to editing and bringing Plath's work to posthumous publication.

**Compare & Contrast**

- **1960:** America's relationship with Cuba quickly deteriorates after Fidel Castro signs an agreement at Havana on February 13th with Soviet first deputy premier Anastas Mikoyan. The paper strongly ties the neighboring island to Communist Russia both politically and militarily. Tensions caused by both American and Russian threats of nuclear action over the tiny country later come to a head in a naval standoff known as "The Cuban Missile Crisis."

**1998:** Although Cuba is one of only a very small handful of Communist countries remaining, the relationship between Castro, still in power, and the American government, continues to get stronger. Castro shows a sign of goodwill by allowing the visit of Pope John Paul II, and American business investors pressure Washington to ease sanctions on Cuba so they may invest in the market there.

- **1960:** The first commercial lasers are introduced by Hughes Laboratory in Malibu, California. The laser, an acronymn that stands for "light amplification by stimulated emission of radiation," provides thousands of watts of energy in a single, consistent beam of light. They will be used for industrial metalwork cutting and welding.

**1998:** Lasers are widely used in a variety of diverse applications, from corrective eye and dental surgery to military targeting and "smart bombs." Scientists and science-fiction writers alike imagine lasers as being the eventual first line of defense against any stray asteroids heading toward Earth.

- **1960:** Domino's Pizza opens in Detroit. Local entrepreneur Thomas Monaghan, 23, borrows $500 to buy his first pizza parlor.

**1998:** Having grown to become a multi-million dollar business with thousands of franchises nationwide, Domino's has pioneered pizza delivery as we know it with "30 minutes or less" door-to-door service guarantees and its distinctive blue, red and white logos.

## Critical Overview

"Hawk Roosting" received its greatest amount of critical attention after it was republished in Hughes's Selected Poems: 1957-1967. By then, the poem was more than thirteen years old, and critics could study it as part of the overall pattern of Hughes's work. Critics are sharply divided over the effectiveness of "Hawk Roosting." Peter Meinke wrote a generally favorable review of Hughes's work in The New Republic: "[A]s a description of his own inner landscape, which we all touch on somewhere, Hughes' poems are completely compelling, but as a description of reality they suffer 'tunnel vision' …" Calvin Bedient wrote in The New York Times a month earlier (January 1974): "At his worst, [Hughes's] poems say 'TAKE THAT!' He seems to boast that he can swallow more gore and nothingness than anyone else on the block …" But criticisms such as these blame the author for narrowness and bleakness, which Hughes could easily defend as his intention. Worse yet is Marjorie Perloff's charge that "'Hawk Roosting' … has no meaningful reference to any conceivable situation." She explains this by pointing out a weak link in Hughes's poetry, that "in Hughes' poetic universe, the relation of the individual to the hostile, amoral violence that surrounds him remains obscure." Even worse than accusations of meaninglessness, though, are the critics who see "Hawk Roosting" as being pro-fascist. Although Hughes denied this claim, critic Robert Stuart responded that, because of a "lack of any note of self-awareness," there is hardly any way to understand the murderous hawk except as a fascist. The little written about the poem's technical and verbal skill is generally favorable, but many commentators do not accept the poem's neutral moral stance as being characteristic of good poetry.

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# YOGI VEMANA UNIVERSITY,KADAPA

# DEPARTMENT OF ENGLISH

**M.A ENGLISH LITERATUREAND LANGUAGE**

# SEMESTER - II

**ENGYVU202: DRAMA – II**

**With Effect From 2021-22 (Under NEP 2020 )**

## Program Educational Objectives (PEOs)

- After going through the prescribed text students will be able to understand a brief account of dramatic personality and the outline of the plots prescribed study.
- After going through the prescribed text students will be able to understand themes motifs and symbols of the prescribed text.
- After going through the prescribed text students will be able to understand critical analysis of the prescribed plays.

**UNIT - I**

| | | |
|---|---|---|
| **Background Study** | **:** | **Literary History – Genres – Movements – Idea – Trends – Concepts** |

**UNIT – II**

| | | |
|---|---|---|
| **1. G.B. Shaw** | **:** | **The Apple Cart** |
| **2. Christopher Fry** | **:** | ***The Lady's Not for Burning*** |

**UNIT – III**

| | | |
|---|---|---|
| **3. John Osborne** | **:** | **Look Back in Anger** |
| **4. Harold Pinter** | **:** | **The Birthday Party** |

**UNIT – IV**

| | | |
|---|---|---|
| **5. Samuel Beckett** | **:** | **Waiting for Godot** |
| **6. J. M. Synge** | **:** | **Riders to the Sea** |

## Program Specific Outcomes (PSOs)

- Develops insights into various literary genres, movements, ideas, trends and concepts during the time.
- Traces the development of British drama from 19$^{th}$ century to 21$^{st}$century.

## Suggested Reading:


- Drama from Ibsen to Brecht – Raymond Williams (Penguin Books, 1973)
- Contemporary British Drama - Berney and Templeton (1994)
- Modern British Dramatists - John Russell Brown (Eaglewood Ciffs, NJ, 1968)
- Revolution in Modern English Drama - Katherine J. Worth (Bell, London, 1972)
- Anger and After: Guide to the New British Drama - John Russell Taylor (Eyre Methune, London, 1977)

**UNIT-1**

**Background Study and Developments in the 19th century**

**Theatre in France after the Revolution**

Under Napoleon, French theatre was little different from that of the 1780s, specializing in Neoclassical drama. Popular drama, as performed by what were known as "boulevard theatres," introduced melodrama, a form that was to dominate theatre in the 19th century. Melodrama, in turn, by popularizing departures from Neoclassicism and capturing the interest of large audiences, paved the way for Romantic drama.

The dramatic debut of Romanticism is dated at 1830, when public pressure forced the Comédie-Française to produce Victor Hugo's *Hernani*. After a spirited opening at which Hugo's Bohemian claque overwhelmed the staid regular theatregoers, Romanticism was victorious and ruled the Parisian stage for 50 years. The grandiose bombast of Romanticism did not overturn the Baroque, it merely diluted it; the formal artificial structure was broken into sentimental, melodramatic episodes depicting the distraught hero buffeted by an unfeeling world and the awesome elements.

The melodramas introduced natural disasters that were significant to the plot, so that emphasis could be placed on special effects and spectacle. Dramatists also deliberately included exotic locales or examples of local colour, so that a variety of historical periods and fantastic sets would hold the attention of the audience. Throughout the 19th century, architectural perspective was replaced by neo-Gothic sentimentalization of nature. Painted Romantic scenery, in the style of Loutherbourg, was the rage in France.

The two important designers of this period were Jacques Daguerre, who was also the inventor of the daguerreotype, an early photographic technique, and Pierre-Luc-Charles Ciceri, the most important designer of this period. The panorama, a major scenic innovation, was invented in 1787 and first used on the London stage in 1792. The panorama was set up in a circular building in which the audience, sitting on a central platform, was totally surrounded by a continuous painting. Daguerre started his career as one of the first panorama painters.

He went on to invent the diorama, in which the audience sat on a platform that revolved to show paintings on proscenium-like stages. Although the scenery remained

stationary, Daguerre created the illusion of constant change by controlling the light on the semitransparent sets. The panorama was more popular than the diorama because it did not depend on the ability to alter stage lighting. Its shape, though, was altered to resemble the diorama. The next development in spectacle was the moving panorama, in which a continuous scene was painted on a long cloth, hung from an overhead track, and attached at both ends to spools.

When the spools were turned, the cloth moved across the stage so that the actors with their carriages and other props could move from one location to another without changing wings and drops. The sky borders were dispensed with, and flats of architectural units or natural objects forming an arch were placed at the front of the stage, through which was seen a distant view painted on a curved panorama stretching across the back and sides of the stage.

Ciceri's importance arose from his abilities to depict local colour, ruins, and historical backgrounds. He founded the first scenic studio in Paris independent of a theatre, with specialists in various types of design. After the opening of the new Opéra in 1822, interest in spectacle was so great that promptbooks were published, describing scenery and special effects and how they could be adapted for theatres with less equipment.

By the end of the 19th century, the process of scenic design and construction had become standardized. The director gave the requirements to the scenic designer, who made cardboard models. The scenery was constructed by the theatre's carpenters and then sent to a scenic studio for painting.

**German Romanticism and Naturalism**

The 19th century in Germany was a study in contrasts. The beginning decades saw the rise of Romanticism, which, 50 years later, was still strong, primarily in the figure of the composer Richard Wagner. The century's middle decades of political and economic disillusionment before the unification of Germany were conducive to the emerging Naturalist school, the philosophy of which was first embodied in the Meiningen Players, organized in 1866 by George II, duke of Saxe-Meiningen.

By the middle 1820s, after the defeat of Napoleon, the political turbulence in Germany led to municipal control over the theatre and strict censorship. Repertoires consisted of "safe" classics and insipid new plays, resulting in competent but uninspired theatre. This competence was reflected in the staging. One of the few important designers of this period was Karl Friedrich Schinkel, who had been trained in both Italy and Germany. He introduced the diorama in Berlin in 1827.

One true innovator during the first half of the 19th century was Ludwig Tieck, who advocated realistic acting on a platform stage. With the help of an architect, he tried to reconstruct an Elizabethan public stage. He also championed the open stage in the belief that pictorial realism destroys the true illusion of the theatre. Invited by William IV of Prussia to stage *Antigone* at the court theatre in Potsdam in 1841, Tieck extended the apron in a semicircle over the orchestra pit and built a *skēnē* as the only background for the drama.

In 1843 he adopted Elizabethan conventions to the proscenium theatre for a production of *A Midsummer Night's Dream*. Using the front part of the stage as a large open space, he built a unit in the rear consisting of two stairs leading to an acting area eight feet above stage level. The stairs framed an inner stage below the platform. He then hung tapestries at right angles to the proscenium, thus masking the sides of the stage. Although Tieck was universally respected, it was not until the 1870s that his innovations received widespread support. The works of Wagner and Saxe-Meiningen were responsible for this change in the public's attitude.

Wagner's works were the dramatic culmination of Romanticism and the contribution it was destined to make to modern theatre practices. German Romanticism was in great part a protest movement against the dominance of French Neoclassicism. Instead of structuring dramatic action according to fixed patterns of logical progression, the Romantics wanted dramatic structures born of human experience. This stress on what was to be called "organic form" was a protest against the received tradition of dramatic theory and staging practices.

German Romanticism, also known as Sturm und Drang ("Storm and Stress"), a movement generally attributed to the influence of the young Goethe at the end of the 18th century, turned to a revival of the Gothic style of the Middle Ages to escape

Neoclassicism. The new middle-class audiences identified with the lonely soul against the world—a sentimental world of windswept mountain crags and gloomy, mouldering castles.

Romanticism later broke into two camps. The first of these, called historical Romanticism, held that history is continuous, and that once its import has been grasped, the present can be recognized to be as "historical" as anything that occurred in the past. The second Romantic group, with which Wagner was associated, was concerned only with the use of history to reach absolute truths. Wagner believed that the study of history leads ultimately to prehistory and thus to transhistorical mythology, the realm of absolute truths. What is particularly interesting is that the first type, historical Romanticism, eventually found its home in the theatre in the realist school. Wagner's myth-Romanticism faded by the late 1800s, although Romantic contributions to staging exerted their influence well into the 20th century.

Wagner wanted to use myth to reunite modern man with the passion from which rationalism, the industrial process, and capitalism had separated him. For him, the theatrical manifestation of the myth was the music drama, and he hoped to combine music, acting, stage space, design, and lighting to establish the primeval mood of myth. To house his music drama, Wagner designed the Festspielhaus in Bayreuth, which opened in 1876, marking a rejection of the Baroque stratified auditorium and a return to classical, democratic principles of theatre design.

The seating is fan-shaped, a belated acknowledgment of the fact that good lateral sight lines are essential for the enjoyment of performances on a proscenium stage. Wagner did away with the box seats, from which the wealthier theatregoers had watched each other instead of the stage for hundreds of years. Another striking feature is the absence of any radial or parallel aisles. Side aisles and two vomitory exits provide the only access to seating, thus further concentrating and compressing the main body of seats in front of the proscenium. Wagner had the orchestra lowered into a pit (the "mystic gulf"), so that it became the hidden source of an enveloping sound.

The stage itself was raked upward toward the rear, and the scenery was shifted by using the chariot-and-pole system. Wagner introduced a system of steam vents to make a steam curtain to hide scene changes. For him the theatre could no longer be

the aggregate of the parts contributed by various hands. The ideal was the *Gesamtkunstwerk* ("total work of art"), in which all the elements of performance would be integrated. Nothing could be left to chance; all must be directed toward the same end.

At the time Wagner was introducing his music drama, George II, duke of Saxe-Meiningen, began to take an interest in the theatre of his court. The theatre itself, built by his father in classical-revival style in 1831, had a facade decorated with pillars crowned by a Greek pediment. The building contained not only the auditorium and stage house but also an assembly hall for balls, banquets, and other nontheatrical festivities. Saxe-Meiningen tried to create the illusion of reality with accurate spectacle and lifelike acting. He studied the distinctions between nations within the same historical period; the result was unprecedented historical accuracy. Saxe-Meiningen also insisted on using authentic period furniture, and the success of his troupe led to the opening of theatrical supply houses.

The Duke designed all scenery, properties, and costumes for his troupe. Costumes were made of authentic materials. Characters appearing in chain mail wore chain mail and not some lighter substitute. Swords were of authentic weight. In this way, it was reasoned, the actor's physical sensation of wearing the costumes induced empathetic feelings for the character, and these feelings formed the basis of "lifelike" acting. Saxe-Meiningen viewed scene design as similar to architectural design in that it shapes whatever activity it shelters.

He insisted on the continuous and direct relation between the design of a set and the actors' movements within it. Among his innovations is the abandonment of the practice of using only pastel colours for scenery; instead of sky borders as overhead masking, he used richly coloured banners, foliage, and other devices. Saxe-Meiningen was one of the first designers to break the surface of the stage floor into different levels.

From 1866 to 1874 the troupe performed only in Meiningen; for the following 16 years it toured 38 cities in nine countries. It had enormous impact on the history of the theatre, as it achieved complete illusion in every facet of its productions. Saxe-Meiningen is considered the single most important influence on the directors who inaugurated 20th-century stagecraft; he introduced the pictorial massing of crowds. He

coordinated and controlled the work of his actors and established the ensemble as the basis for creative work in the theatre. There were no stars in the Meiningen Players. Casting policy required that actors play leading roles in some productions, subordinate roles in others. The supernumeraries were subjected to the same discipline, and the crowd was sectionalized under the leadership of actors. Actors were required to learn practical skills appropriate to their roles. The Saxe-Meiningen movement toward unified productions influenced other major figures such as André Antoinein France and Konstantin Stanislavsky in Russia, great apostles of realism and the founders of modern theatre.

However disparate the aims of Saxe-Meiningen and Wagner were, they had a great deal in common. Between them they established the principle that a production should be subordinated to the will of one individual who directs and integrates all aspects of the preparation. The profession of theatre director came into being with their vision of theatre.

**Russian imperial theatre**

Russian drama in the 19th century also got off to a slow start because of strict government censorship, particularly after 1825. This atmosphere was conducive, as in Germany, to the flowering of Romanticism, especially as manifest in patriotic spectacles. Melodrama, Shakespeare, and musical plays were the backbone of Russian repertory until the 1830s. The best known plays of the new realistic school were those of Aleksandr Ostrovsky, Nikolay Gogol, and Ivan Turgenev.

Until 1883 the imperial theatres, under strict government controls, had a monopoly on productions in Russia's two major cities, Moscow and St. Petersburg. It was not until the monopolies were rescinded that public theatre was able to expand, although the state troupes, such as the Bolshoi in Moscow, continued to offer the most professional productions.

Through the 1850s each theatre had its own few stock settings. The box set had been introduced in the 1830s, but it was to take several decades to become popular. Realism began to dominate scenic design by the 1850s, particularly at the Maly Theatre in Moscow. Historically accurate settings began to appear in the 1860s, when one theatre hired a historian to help the designer of Aleksey Tolstoy's *Death of Ivan the*

*Terrible*. Previously, settings had followed the neutral style of the German designer Alfred Roller, whose pupils were the major designers for the state theatres. The unified production techniques of Meiningen were not seen in Russia until the Moscow Art Theatre flourished at the beginning of the 20th century.

**British theatre and stage design**

In 19th-century Britain the audiences shaped both the theatres and the dramas played within them. The upper class favoured opera, while the working class, whose population in London alone tripled between 1810 and 1850, wanted broadly acted theatre with scenic wonders and machinery. And as the audience grew in number, the Georgian theatre building, which was small and intimate, began to disappear.

In the early 19th century an important designer was William Capon, who utilized pieces set at various raked angles and elaborate back cloths as an alternative to flats and wings. His sets were also large enough not to be overpowered by the larger theatres. One of Capon's sets, depicting a 14th-century cathedral, was 56 feet wide and 52 feet deep. His sets were historically accurate even though the practice of having several designers work independently on the same production was still in effect.

The productions of John Philip Kemble, the manager of first the Drury Lane and then the Covent Garden, marked the shift from Neoclassicism to Romanticism in English stage design. He valued theatricality over historical accuracy, as the audience demanded an increased use of spectacle with each passing year. As melodrama became more popular, the effects multiplied until, in an 1820 production of *King Lear*, the storm noises were so realistic that Lear could not be heard. In 1823 Kemble began to reverse this trend and started to use accurate sets and costumes for Shakespeare, and within 15 years historical accuracy was dominant.

Another important contributor to the history of staging was Lucia Vestris, an actress and manager at the Olympic Theatre. She controlled all the elements of a production and combined them into a single, integrated unit. She also was enamoured of spectacle and is credited with introducing the box set on the London stage in 1832, although there is some evidence pointing to its use as early as 1794. In this new set, the sidewalls of rooms were built solidly from front to back so that the actors, instead of entering as usual between side wings set parallel to the footlights, came in through

doors set on hinges. She treated the box set realistically, attaching knobs to doors, for example.

By the 1840s, because of political conditions, many theatres were bankrupt. The next 20 years saw a gradual recovery, with few dramatic innovations in design. One important manager of this era was Charles Kean, a pictorial realist, whose first major attempt to ensure accuracy in every production detail was made in 1852 with *King John*. In the following year, Kean gave the audience a printed list of authorities consulted with regard to the authenticity of each production. In mounting Shakespeare as lavishly as possible while at the same time emphasizing historical accuracy, Kean practically buried his actors in historical costume, settings, and pageantry.

In the second half of the 19th century, burlesque, extravaganza, and musical drama held the largest audience appeal. The music hall also came into prominence, as incidental entertainment was separated from drama. In the period from 1860 to 1880, the theatre continued to expand, and the number of buildings alone increased 50 percent in the first 10 years. The first manager of significance was Charles Fechter, who revived interest in the box set. He also discontinued entrances from the wings, heretofore a standard practice of actors even when the wings represented solid walls. Fechter also used a stage that sank by hydraulic mechanism, later perfected by the Germans, which allowed scenery to be shifted in the basement.

The most important management team was that of Sir Squire Bancroft and his wife, Marie Wilton, at the Prince of Wales Theatre. Producing plays by Thomas W. Robertson, they succeeded in melding character and stage business. Spectacle was no longer embellishment but an emphasizing of realistic visual details. The Bancrofts' productions also finally won general acceptance for the box set; they were as accurate in modern plays as in Shakespeare; and they firmly anchored the acting behind the proscenium arch.

Theatre boxes had been replaced by open balconies, which no longer extended to the proscenium wall. This made it possible for the Bancrofts and others to lower the proscenium arch. In 1880 they even extended the arch downward on either side and across the floor of the stage to emphasize the analogy of the picture frame. Modern, realistic interior settings were constantly used, and the acting was keyed to the settings.

Although Fechter had employed realistic stage business as early as 1860, the Bancrofts were the first to standardize it and make it a tradition.

The greatest of the actor-managers was Sir Henry Irving, the manager of the Lyceum Theatre from 1878 to 1901. The best known designers of the period, Hawes Craven and Joseph Harker, worked for Irving. He hired historians to advise on the accuracy of productions and enlisted easel painters such as Sir Lawrence Alma-Tadema to design scenery for *Cymbeline* and *Coriolanus* and Sir Edward Burne-Jones for *King Arthur*. After Irving saw the Meiningen performances in London in 1881, he modeled his Shakespearean productions on what he had seen. Irving was also the first manager to use the front curtain to hide major scene changes, and he completely darkened the auditorium during performance, as Wagner had done.

The widespread changes in staging methods during the 19th century were possible because of changes in architecture and the development of machinery. The complex scenery of the Victorian theatre required increased flying around the stage, with a complicated counterweight system, and this in turn fostered one of the most popular features of the staging of this period—the flying of actors as well as scenery.

During this period the arrangement of the stage floor also changed to fit the requirements of spectacle. After 1850 the stage floor was usually constructed so that floorboards could be removed for raising and lowering machinery between the joists. Sometimes a vertical panorama would run from overhead through a groove in the floor. The changes in stage floors made possible new scenic effects to meet the audience demand. The traps of the Elizabethan and Georgian eras, for instance, were greatly elaborated. The most famous trap was a "ghost glide," a sort of dumbwaiter that made actors appear to rise from the earth and glide through space.

As stage lighting improved with the introduction of gaslight, the deficiencies of two-dimensional scenery in terms of realism became increasingly apparent. The taste for verisimilitude led Edward Godwin, the father of Edward Gordon Craig, frequently to commission three-dimensional scenic elements for his productions. Since the groove system of scene-changing was unsuitable for such pieces, he dispensed with it and hired a crew of 135 stage hands. The new trend also rendered the naked stage obsolete, for reasons of gravity. Irving, who was instrumental in accepting new developments in

lighting, also introduced black masking pieces at the front of the stage to prevent light spill. Irving's importance to theatre is comparable to that of Saxe-Meiningen. His emphasis on pictorial realism marks the high point of British theatre before World War I.

**Theatre and stage design in America**

The first recorded performance of a play written by an American was in 1690 at Harvard College. The first permanent American theatre was built in Philadelphia in 1766; it was made of brick and imitated English buildings in arrangement and general architecture. In 1752 Lewis Hallam, a member of a distinguished theatrical family, arrived with a troupe from England, thus marking the beginning of professional theatre in America. The theatre in America for the next 40 years was similar to British provincial theatre, with simple sets for easy traveling; few cities could yet afford theatre buildings. By the 1790s, however, troupes were based in Boston, New York City, Philadelphia, and Charleston, South Carolina, and many permanent theatres were being erected.

The first decades of the 19th century brought not only multiplication of playhouses in the larger Eastern cities but also the extension of theatre to interior regions. The frontier spirit was embodied by Samuel Drake, who took the first company west (to Kentucky) in 1815. Drake designed an adjustable proscenium that could be set up in any large room. The front curtain was a roll drop (lowered from behind the proscenium arch), and three sets of wings (one each for exteriors, ornate interiors, and simple interiors) and six roll drops (including a garden, a street, and a wood) completed his scenic repertoire.

After 1825, New York City had higher standards of theatrical production and more theatre buildings than any other city in America. Although decoration and furnishings created an impression of luxury, the early urban theatres were in fact filthy and rat-infested. They had little or no fire protection, and between 1820 and 1845, no fewer than 25 theatre buildings burned down. Although most productions used stock sets and props, occasionally an elaborate or specific set was added. Interest in historical accuracy was not a major production concern until 1830, when Charles Kean visited with his Shakespeare troupe from England.

During the latter third of the 19th century, the general scenic trend was toward greater naturalism, with particular emphasis on local colour. The major design innovations came from the managers of troupes permanently based at a theatre. One such manager was Edwin Booth, whose new theatre, opened in 1869, introduced several new concepts in the United States. The most important innovation was that the stage floor was flat and had no grooves; elevators raised set pieces from the 50 feet of working space below the stage, and flying machines moved other pieces into the 76 feet of overhead space. In Booth's new theatre he abandoned the apron and used box sets almost exclusively.

Another important manager was Augustin Daly, who furthered the trend of realism. While the members of his troupe changed considerably during its three-decade history, it was the best example of the permanent stock company in the history of the American theatre. Daly stressed the unity of every production and controlled each element himself. His first success, *Saratoga*, by Bronson Howard, in 1870, was the first play to give a realistic picture of American life of the day.

Steele MacKaye, also active during this period, holds a unique place in theatre as an actor, manager, playwright, inventor, and designer. In an age of mechanical inventions, producers were seeking a means of effecting scene changes that would not require an intermission. In 1879, MacKaye filed a patent for a "double stage," a feature he subsequently introduced in the Madison Square Theatre in New York City. He built an elevator platform on which one scene might be set while an earlier scene was being played below. The new scene was then merely lowered, with its own stage floor, to the appropriate level, while the previous scene rolled back behind it.

Among MacKaye's other mechanical innovations were a folding theatre chair with coatrack attached, a sliding stage, a theatre ventilation system, the first installation of an electric lighting system in a theatre (1885), devices to produce cloud, ocean wave, and rainbow effects, the substitution of overhead lighting for footlights (which had been in use since the early Baroque period), and a process for fireproofing scenery. For financial reasons, some of his more grandiose schemes were never executed. For the World's Columbian Exposition in Chicago in 1893, for example, he designed a "Spectatorium" for musico-spectacle-dramas; it called for a sky dome that encircled the

stage, a curtain made of light, a sliding stage for scene changes, and an auditorium seating 10,000 people.

In 1896 six men formed the Theatrical Syndicate, which acquired almost complete control over American theatre. They were interested only in commercially profitable works, such as productions featuring performers with large followings. The major opposition to the syndicate came from David Belasco, a producer and playwright. Belasco's aim as a producer was to bring complete realism to the stage, and it is difficult today to appreciate how spectacularly far he carried this pursuit.

In 1879, in his production of *The Passion Play*, the story of Jesus Christ from birth to Resurrection, he arranged for a live flock of sheep to be herded onstage. When the actor James O'Neill (father of playwright Eugene O'Neill), who played Christ, was dragged before Pontius Pilate and crowned with thorns, members of the audience fainted. And after the performance, when O'Neill walked around the city, people sank to their knees and prayed to him. The play aroused such religious frenzy that Jews were assaulted on the street outside the theatre, and a court injunction forbade further performances.

The power of the Theatrical Syndicate was so great that in 1904 Belasco was forced to rent Convention Hall, a leaky building in New York City, for his productions. During the first performance there was a violent rainstorm, and the audience had to sit through the last act holding umbrellas. Belasco's productions became so popular that the syndicate was finally forced to compromise with him, thus breaking their stranglehold on the American theatre.

**The evolution of modern theatrical production**

Underlying the theatrical developments of the 19th century, and in many cases inspiring them, were the social upheavals that followed the French Revolution. Throughout Europe the middle class took over the theatres and effected changes in repertoire, style, and decorum. In those countries that experienced revolutionary change or failure, national theatres were founded to give expression to the views and values of the middle class, whose aspirations in these cases coincided with a more general movement of national liberation. In western Europe a different pattern of development emerged, varying considerably in each country but having the unified

features of a demand for “realism” on the stage, which meant a faithful reflection of the life-style and domestic surroundings of the rising class in both its tragic and its comic aspects; an adjunct to this development was the demand for increased decorum and cleanliness in the auditorium.

In England, where the Industrial Revolution was more advanced than in the other European countries, the middle class had to struggle for its own theatres against the entrenched power of the two patent houses (licensed by the Crown), Drury Lane and Covent Garden, which had enjoyed an almost total monopoly of dramatic theatre since 1660. As early as 1789, attempts were made to evade the legal restrictions on building new theatres. The Reform Bill of 1832, which enfranchised the propertied middle class and established its political power, led to the Theatres Act of 1843, which gave London a “free theatre.”

The expected flood of new theatre buildings did not occur, and no major building took place for 16 years. This is probably because there were already sufficient illegal theatres in operation when the act was passed. The boulevard theatres of Paris experienced less trouble in establishing themselves. The rise of the middle-class theatres caused the decline of both the patent houses in London and the Comédie-Française—the national theatre of France. After much political struggle, centring particularly around censorship, the Comédie-Française, unable to compete with the boulevard theatres, capitulated and presented the plays of the new school for the new audiences.

As the new class came into the theatres, the theatres were cleaned up. Samuel Phelps at The Sadler’s Wells Theatre instituted audience controls that drove out the old audience and paved the way for respectability. The Bancrofts, as representative as any of the new movement, took over the run-down Prince of Wales’ Theatre, cleaned up the auditorium, and placed antimacassars on the seats. They also dropped the melodrama and attracted a wide audience with the social comedies of Tom Robertson, making a considerable fortune in the process.

Throughout the 19th century, cities throughout Europe and North America exploded in size, and industrial centres attracted labour to their factories and

mills. The working-class suburbs of cities and the industrial towns created their own demand for entertainment, which led to the construction of large theatres.

Accelerating this change was the growth of the railways. The pattern of theatre was disrupted in England as productions were mounted in London and sent on tour. The old provincial stock companies folded and theatres became touring venues rather than producing houses. A breed of managers arose who made money from the possession of the bricks and mortar property rather than by presenting their own productions. In the United States the Theatrical Syndicate established great fortunes from the New York theatres and the almost unlimited touring circuit that the railways opened up. The change in status from enterprise to industry gave rise to the commercial theatre systems of the West End in London and Broadway in New York City. Improvement in travel in general made it possible to increase the links between the two systems early in the 20th century, and the exchange of productions further extended the possibilities of profitable exploitation.

Modern theatre began around 1885 with the revolt of the younger generation against the material injustices of society. Those in revolt founded so-called independent theatres to present a more critical or scientific view of the workings of society or so-called art theatres to rise above vulgar materialism with the establishment of aesthetic standards. The independent theatres took the Meiningen Players as their starting point. The art theatres looked to Wagner for inspiration.

**The new Naturalism**

The first of the independent theatres was the Théâtre-Libre ("Free Theatre") founded in 1887 by André Antoine, who made his living as a clerk for the Paris Gas Company. The Théâtre-Libre was an amateur theatre with no home of its own. It hired rooms or theatres where they were available and sold tickets for its performances to a closed membership. In this way it avoided censorship. Antoine's original intention was to present plays that had been rejected by the Comédie-Française, and thus the repertoire was eclectic.

The major impact the group made was with a number of naturalistic plays. The theatre was at this time lagging behind literature, and, although Émile Zola had written an essay entitled "Naturalism in the Theatre" in 1881 and had produced what is seen as

the first Naturalist play, *Thérèse Raquin*, in 1873, no theatre devoted itself to a Naturalist policy until Antoine founded the Théâtre-Libre. Following on the scientific developments and the philosophical skepticism of the 19th century, the social reformers of the last two decades of the century probed into the causes of human behaviour and postulated that the meaning of human character was to be found in its interaction with the physical, social, and economic environment.

The new theatre demanded "truthfulness" not only in the writing but also in the acting and stage setting. The actors were expected to ignore the audience and to behave and speak as though they were at home. Antoine is normally credited with being the first to require an actor to turn his back on the audience; from this style of acting arose the concept of the "fourth wall" separating the stage from the audience. Behind this "wall"—invisible to the audience, opaque to the actors—the environment portrayed was to be as authentic as possible. Antoine himself designed rooms and then decided which wall would be "removed." In *The Butchers*, he hung animal carcasses on the stage.

It is possible, however, to overestimate Antoine's commitment to Naturalism, since a great deal of his repertoire was not naturalistic and the descriptions of several of the Théâtre-Libre presentations show an imaginative experimentation with lighting effects that goes well beyond creating realistic temporal and atmospheric conditions. The first production of the Théâtre-Libre had no scenery at all but only a few pieces of furniture borrowed from Antoine's mother, yet it was this production that set the Naturalist style.

Zola, the philosopher of the movement, had deplored the fact that the Naturalist theatre began by creating an external representation of the world instead of concentrating on the inner state of the characters. Strindberg showed that a few carefully selected properties could suggest an entire room. With the ideas of Antoine and Strindberg, the days of flapping canvas doors and kitchen shelves painted on the walls of the set came to be numbered. The more natural and detailed the acting became, the more it clashed with a painted background.

Antoine's innovations did much to establish the principle that each play requires its own distinct setting. In 1906, as director of the state-subsidized Théâtre de l'Odéon, he

produced classical plays in which he strove for realism not by means of period decor and costume but by re-creating theatrical conventions of the 1600s.

The new pattern of theatre set in France was imitated in Germany during the same period. Otto Brahm modeled his theatrical society, the Freie Bühne, founded in Berlin in 1889, after Antoine's Théâtre-Libre. Its first production was Ibsen's *Ghosts*. On the basis of this and other examples, it could be said that Ibsen pioneered the repertoire, Saxe-Meiningen the staging methods, and Antoine the organizational form for a range of small, independent theatres springing up throughout Europe.

With both ideological aims and theatrical tastes in mind, members of the German middle-class theatre audience formed an organization called the Freie Volksbühne in 1890 for the purpose of buying blocks of tickets and commissioning performances and even productions for its membership, which included a large working-class element. Early in its history the organization split between the Freie Volksbühne, who were attempting to make theatre available to a wider audience, and the Neue Freie Volksbühne, who had specific Socialist attachments and policies. Eventually the two arms recombined and were able not only to subsidize performances but also to build their own theatre and mount their own productions.

During the 1890s in France, a similar program of democratization was attempted. One of the prime movers in this was Romain Rolland, whose book *The People's Theatre* (*Le Théâtre du peuple*, 1903), inspired similar movements in other countries.

In England the works of Ibsen aroused great interest and attracted the attention of the censors. The first English independent theatre was organized by Jack Thomas Grein, and its first production in 1891 was Ibsen's *Ghosts*. Grein's intention of finding British writers of the new drama was frustrated until the arrival of George Bernard Shaw, the most famous Ibsenite of them all, in 1892, with his first play, *Widowers' Houses*.

Shaw remained the mainstay of the independent theatre movement in Britain. His preeminence in the independent theatre in England coupled with the success of Arthur Wing Pinero in the commercial realist theatre led to a major innovation in staging in England. Both playwrights participated in the casting of their plays, which in Pinero's

case led to a break away from the old stock company casting and the institution of casting to type. Shaw was able to impose his own interpretation and stage direction on the production of his plays.

Russia also followed the pattern of the independent theatre movement that developed in France, Germany, and England (see below Developments in Russia and the Soviet Union).

**Reactions to Naturalism**

The Théâtre-Libre had scarcely been established when the reaction against Naturalism got under way. Symbolism developed out of a total opposition to the philosophy that lay behind Naturalism. It sought an intuitive and spiritual form of knowledge, regarded by its proponents as higher than that which science could provide. If Naturalism attacked the materialist values of society from a critical and reformist standpoint, Symbolism rejected them altogether. In their manifesto of 1886 the Symbolists suggested that subjectivity, spirituality, and mysterious internal forces represented a higher form of truth than the objective observation of appearances.

The Belgian Maurice Maeterlinck, the most successful Symbolist playwright, gave as his opinion that an old man sitting at his table, surrounded by silence, was more dramatic and true-to-life than the lover who strangles his mistress in a tirade of jealousy. The Symbolists drew for example and inspiration on Wagner and on the later plays of Ibsen. They were influenced by the poets Mallarmé and Baudelaire, and the latter's poem *Correspondences*, which finds comparative values in colours and musical notes, is often seen as the first manifesto of the movement. The expressive paintings of Gauguin were also influential.

The first of the Symbolist theatres was the Théâtre d'Art started by the French poet Paul Fort in 1890. Fort was principally concerned with the power of the poetic text but nevertheless made some ingenious contributions to staging. In his production of the Frenchman Pierre Quillard's play *The Girl with the Cut-off Hands* (1891), the actors intoned their lines behind a gauze curtain, backed by a gold cloth framed with red hangings. In front of the gauze, a girl in a long blue tunic repeated the actors' lines and commented on their feelings. This is the first instance in which the setting of a play derives entirely from the ideas of the director and the designer rather than from

tradition or from direct evidence in the text of the play itself. The setting for *The Girl with the Cut-off Hands* is a visual image, suggested by the play but not dictated by it. It is a poetic vision and does not place the play in a specific context.

In 1893, Aurélien Lugné-Poë founded the Théâtre de l'Oeuvre. Guided by the belief that the spoken word creates the scenery, Lugné-Poë attempted unity of style instead of illusion of place and employed such painters as Henri de Toulouse-Lautrec, Maurice Denis, Odilon Redon, Édouard Vuillard, and Pierre Bonnard. Lugné-Poë's production of Maeterlinck's play *Pelléas and Mélisande* typified his technique—no furniture or props were used; the stage was lit from overhead, most of the time to a level of semidarkness;a gauze curtain created the illusion of mist; and backdrops painted in gray tones conveyed a general air of mystery.

The one production of the Théâtre de l'Oeuvre that has had the greatest historical significance was not seen as anything more than a scandalous, schoolboy joke in its own time. Alfred Jarry's *Ubu roi* ("King Ubu") was produced in 1896, with nonrealistic settings and costumes. All the scene settings were displayed simultaneously on a backdrop, and the costumes and makeup were deliberately grotesque, as was the acting style, an amalgam of buffoonery, the horror of Grand Guignol, and extravagant mock-tragedy.

Far from posing an alternative to the materialist values of the bourgeois audience, the first line of *Ubu roi* attacked the audience's values head on. When Firmin Gémier, in the title role, advanced to face the audience, looked directly into their eyes, and uttered the first scandalous word of the text, "*merdre*" ("excrement"), a pattern was set that has been followed by many avant-garde theatre companies throughout the 20th century.

The dialectics of conflict had shifted from being contained within the stage area to being opened between the stage and the auditorium. If an attack on the audience were to be mounted effectively, however, the separation of stage and auditorium had to be diminished. Various attempts were subsequently made either to contain stage and auditorium in a single unified spatial area or to adapt existing spaces in order to break through the barrier imposed by the proscenium arch.

## The influence of Appia and Craig

The two most important theoreticians and designers of the non-illusionist movement were the Swiss Adolphe Appia and the Englishman Edward Gordon Craig. Appia began with the assumption posited by Wagner that the fundamental goal of a theatrical production was artistic unity. Appia felt, however, that the incongruity of placing three-dimensional actors in front of two-dimensional settings, which many of the stage reformers rejected, was intensified by the mythic, symbolic nature of the Wagner operas. He concluded that there were three conflicting elements in production—the moving three-dimensional actor, the stationary vertical scenery, and the horizontal floor.

He categorized stage lighting under three headings: a general or acting light, which gave diffused illumination; formative light, which cast shadows; and imitated lighting effects painted on the scenery. He saw the illusionist theatre as employing only the first and last of these types. Appia proposed replacing illusory scene painting with three-dimensional structures that could be altered in appearance by varying the colour, intensity, and direction of lighting. The solid structures, according to Appia, would serve to create a bond between the horizontal floor and the vertical scenery and enhance the actor's movements, which were rhythmically controlled by the music of the score. The lights, too, would change in response to the musical score, thus reflecting or eliciting changes in emotion, mood, and action. In creating a scene, Appia conceived of light as visual music with an equal range of expression and intensity.

Appia elaborated his theory through a series of proposed designs and mise-en-scènes (complete production plans) for Wagner's operas. He was brutally rebuffed by Wagner's widow, who considered his projects the work of a madman. Intensely shy, he created only a few designs and realized even fewer productions. His influence spread largely through his three books on staging and lighting design published from 1899 onward, one exemplary performance in a private theatre in Paris in 1905, and his collaboration with Émile Jaques-Dalcroze. Jaques-Dalcroze was a fellow Swiss who developed, and published in 1906, a system of physical exercises that he called eurythmics, intended to inculcate in the student a sense of rhythm and control over it.

The exercises made liberal use of space and grew into an expressive dance movement. For Appia, eurythmics became a part of his integrated system of production. In 1912, at Hellerau on the outskirts of Dresden, as part of one of the first garden city developments in Europe, a large hall was built to the design of Appia and Jaques-Dalcroze. Stage and auditorium were united as a single rectangular hall without proscenium or separate lighting. The walls and ceiling were hung with translucent silk through which beams of light filtered.

The lighting equipment comprised 10,000 lamps, all controlled by a gigantic console capable of fine gradations of intensity. Appia designed an abstract scenic architecture of platforms and steps that could be arranged in a variety of combinations. Every trace of illusionistic scenery was dispensed with, and the setting served only as a structural foundation for the rhythmic, gymnastic movements of the players. The few performances, which were interrupted by the outbreak of World War I, were attended by many of the leading innovative directors in Europe at that time.

The use of diffuse light solved one of the most vexatious problems of electric lighting—how to blend the individual beams. This problem was equally trying in the illusionist theatre, where the consciousness of separate lightbeams coming from distinct mechanical sources ruined the naturalistic effect. The backdrop remained as a large, finite, painted expanse that any reasonable amount of light revealed to be of a different order than the three-dimensional pieces in front of it. It also necessitated, because of the critical rising sight lines from the stall seats, a series of hanging borders to mask the top limits of the cloth. As lanterns began to be hung on bars above the stage, the number of borders increased. The Austrian producer Max Reinhardt is credited with the frustrated cry, “Will no one rid me of this dirty washing?”

To address this problem the lighting designer Mariano Fortuny y Madrazo constructed a dome that backed the stage area with a gentle curve and overhung the stage. At first he covered the dome with white translucent cloth, an extension of an earlier experiment in which he hung strips of cloth from the ceiling of the stage and diffused light through them. Later the dome had a plaster surface and the lights were diffused by reflection, playing on its inside surface. Instead of a flat, restricted backdrop there was now a spacious vault that created an impression of indeterminate distance. The dome was expensive and very cumbersome to maneuver

and was soon replaced by a cyclorama (horizon or sky-cloth), which is still used today. This consists of a cloth stretched over a semicircular framework to mask the rear wall and corners of the stage. Some modern theatres have been built with a permanent plaster cyclorama.

The Fortuny dome and the cyclorama became essential tools of the scenic illusionists, but their invention served the anti-illusionists equally well, as they gave a sense of space beyond the finite limits of the stage, gave solidity to the stylized decor, and silhouetted the rhythmic action of the players against a background of diffused light. Edward Gordon Craig, the son of the designer Edward Godwin and the actress Ellen Terry, began his career as an actor in Irving's company and became a designer at the turn of the century, just before the publication of the first of his many books on the theatre.

Craig and Appia met in 1914 and shared a deep admiration for each other's work and a great deal of agreement on conceptual matters. There were, however, certain crucial differences. The most fundamental of these arose out of their differing backgrounds. Appia began his work with Wagner, and for him the music dominated and controlled the work. Craig was an actor before becoming a designer and director, and for him all the elements of production were of equal value. Appia had no apparent interest in theatre history, whereas Craig had an abiding interest in it. Appia was a retiring, contemplative thinker; Craig was a polemicist.

Whereas Appia's work followed a continuous developing line, Craig's was characterized by a restless experimentation. His early productions of Purcell and Handel operas at the start of the century explored the use of the "frieze" or "relief" stage—a wide, shallow stage surrounded by drapes, structures in geometric shapes, and a lighting system that dispensed entirely with footlights and side lighting and used only overhead sources. In order to facilitate this and make colour changes possible, Craig devised an overhead bridge accessible from both sides. Although Craig's designs stressed vertical planes as against Appia's horizontal ones, in the operas he utilized a series of levels for the action.

His designs for Purcell's *Dido and Aeneas* used no wings or borders. The back drape ascended to the flies (space over the stage from which scenery and lights can be

hung), and the proscenium was very low in contrast to the great width of the stage. The sides of the setting were enclosed by curtains hung at right angles to the proscenium arch. What impressed many of those who were present was the use of colour symbolism in the costumes, settings, and lighting and the extraordinary consistency with which Craig manipulated all of the elements of the mise-en-scène.

One of Craig's most interesting scenic innovations was a flexible structure made of hinged screens, which permitted a fluid readjustment of space during performance. He experimented with movable proscenium arches for adjusting the stage opening to suit the play or scene. His experiments with all sorts of materials and the effects of coloured light upon them greatly increased the resources of the stage. He proposed placing the lighting control booth at the rear of the auditorium, which is the current practice, to allow the lighting engineer to coordinate the lighting to the actors' movements.

Perhaps Craig's main contributions to the development of staging were his advocacy of the need for one artist to control the production and his insistence upon the study of theatre history. The controlling artist for Craig, unlike Wagner and Appia, was to be the director. If the theatre was ever to become a mature art form in its own right, rather than a haphazard conglomeration of bits and pieces of other art forms, it needed a controlling genius to discipline and coordinate the interaction. Craig's own productions bear out his ability to realize this scheme, and he encouraged the work of a group of gifted directors who followed him.

In the process of working out his thesis, Craig addressed himself to the question of the actor. The actors of Craig's day (like the theatres and their machinery) were ill-equipped for carrying out his production schemes. For the Purcell productions, he used a high percentage of amateurs who could be taught to carry out his instructions. The professional actors of the conventional late-19th-century theatres were not very sophisticated in their technique. Craig was not alone in complaining of the inadequacy of the established actors in light of the new theatre. The French Symbolists debated whether the actor would have to be banished from the stage before any serious theatre could be created.

Even Eleonora Duse, the great Italian actress, declared that for the theatre to be saved all actors would have to die of the plague. Craig's writings were virulent in his

scorn for the actor whose idiosyncrasies constantly imposed themselves between the work and the audience, whose wayward, fickle emotions and feelings constantly sentimentalized and diminished the theatrical effect. He was not opposed in principle to all actors; his admiration of Irving, his mother Ellen Terry, and Duse was profound, and he considered Isadora Duncan a supreme artist, but he did promote the concept that he called the *Übermarionette* ("Superpuppet"). Craig's intention is not fully clear—whether he envisioned mechanical figures that would defy the physical restrictions of the human body or, as seems more likely, puppets that would be controlled from inside by human beings, children, or dwarfs. Nevertheless, he joined a growing chorus of people calling for the elimination of individual actors' idiosyncrasies and the "dematerializing" of the stage and propelled these demands into public debate.

Although the *Übermarionetten* were never realized, the principle was accepted. Later directors such as Meyerhold, Reinhardt, and Copeau recognized the necessity of a studio-school attached to their theatres and of regular training for the actors in advanced techniques, if they were to be able to realize their concepts on stage and eliminate the interference of actors' own egos and emotions. From this flows the present acceptance in the West of a long and intense period of training as necessary for all actors entering the profession. The Eastern theatre, which Craig and those following him have continually returned to study, has always understood this necessity.

Craig's understanding of theatre history was linked to a revival throughout Europe of the study of theatre history. Craig's opinion was that it would be impossible to create a new theatre without making a serious study of previous theatres. He ascribed the short life of some innovative theatres to the fact that they had not adequately studied their predecessors. The study of theatre history spread widely enough to embrace the long-established Oriental theatre forms. Craig's own productions drew on Japanese theatre, the Greeks, and the Baroque and Romantic periods. The most important effect of this research and use of theatre history was to liberate stage production from the narrow confines of contemporary style and fashion. If the past could be incorporated into the present, an almost limitless range of production possibilities was opened up. This liberation, in turn, increased the demands made upon the actors.

**UNIT-2**
**LESSON-8**
***PYGMALION* BY GEORGE BERNARD SHAW**

In the previous lessons you studied comedies and now you are going to read a new genre of drama created in the 20th century, termed problem play and promoted by many European dramatists in the form of modern theatre. Bernard Shaw's Pygmalion is the best known play of the writer as it's one of the widely watched and admired films of his time, with the title `My Fair Lady'that won the Oscar, the most coveted academy award of Motion Pictures.

Objectives

After going through the lesson, you will Understand the aspects of the `Shavian Play' Know about the life and works of George Bernard Shaw and
• Understand the theme of the play through its act-wise summary

**Structure of the Lesson**

Late 19th Century and Early 20th century British Drama

Features of Shavian Play

Social background of the Drama 'Pygmalion'

Life and Works of George Bernard Shaw

Pygmalion: Act-Wise Summary

List of Characters

Act- I

Act-II

Act- III

Act-IV

Act- V

Summing Up

Comprehension Check Questions

References

Additional Sources

**late 19th and early 20th century British Drama**

Victorian drama in the early 19th century, appealed to the uneducated audience who Were interested in emotional excitement and not so much in intellectual subtlety thus making more of a popular art .form. Allardyce Nicoll, author of History of Late Nineteenth. Century p[l]ratna, states that at this time theatres became very the Theatrical environment and ambience was not particularly restricted to certain classes.ofpopular with masses (The .Audience) as of the society.

Moreover the Queen's encouragement of the theatre brought a fresh lease of life to the London theatre. But these melodramas could not hold their sway on the stage for long. By the middle of the 19th Century a new realist drama was pioneered with the lively comedi▪ es by Dion Boucicault and Tom Taylor and playwrights like T.W. Robertson. Further the Late 19th century, especially the last decade, turned out to be a decade of dramaticinnovation with oscar Wilde, one of the most prominent playwrights of the Victorian era, writing brilliant plays. Wilde 's easy wit ensured promising success for the series of dranias that he wrote hich began with "Lady Windermere's Fan"that appeared at the St James' Theatre bringing instant fame for the author. His other Plays such as "Salome"followed by "A Woman of N o importance", "An Ideal Husband"and "The Importance of Being Earnest", were filled with it and brilliant paradoxes. Other important writers include John Millington Synge, who wrote famous plays like "Riders to the Sea"and "The Playboy of the Western World". Nearly all the writers mentioned above have tried to introduce laughter in their work. One of the most famous. comedies of the Victorian era was "The Importance of Being Earnest", a social satire showing a world where no character has the slightest responsibility or can be counted to say or do the usual thing. At the same time, the influence of Norwegian playwright Henrik Ibsen was helping to produce a new genre of serious "problem plays,"such as Pinero s The Second Mrs. Tanqueray (1893). J.T. Grein founded the Independent Theatre in 1891 to foster such work and staged there the first plays of George Bernard Shaw and translations of Ibsen.

During the early 1900s the British society was facing a crisis in the economic, political and social fronts with many of the trade unions involved in agitations against

the government over huge unequal wealth divide between the haves and have-nots; the Irish nationalist movement; and the suffragette movement demanding for the right to vote for women. These upheavals of the social fabric entered the drama of the time such as in "The Voyesy Inheritance"(1905) by Granville Barker, and Strife (1909) by John Galsworthy. Theatre in these Edwardian times was London based and it was judged, as expressed by a corltemporary Italian visiting England, as a reflection of the 'special aristocratic conception of its status, and the point of view of its patrons'.

Exactly at this time plays like "Ghosts"and "A Doll's House"of the Norwegian writer Henrik Ibsen challenged the existing moral fiber of the Victorian European Society and his work heralded the modern European drama,establishing a serious drama based on moral and social issues. This theatre was called "the minority theatre"where the plays were written for small play houses and repertory theatres. Bernard Shaw was influenced by Ibsen and similar themes were presented by him though not overtly critical of the social ailments but with humour and comic sarcasm. With this use of biting wit he succeeded in making the minority theatre very popular in London. Shaw himself defined his plays as problem plays or argumentative plays.

Problem plays are a type of drama which deals with controversial social issues in a realistic manner, exposing social ills as well as stimulating thought and discussion on the part of the audience. These plays had their origins in the work of the French dramatists Alexandre Dumas and Emile Augier, 'who created simple didactic plays on subjects like prostitution, business ethics, illegitimacy, and female emancipation. The problem play matured in the works of the Norwegian playwright Henrik Ibsen, who wrote with artistic merit as well ns topical relevance, Ile uncovered the pretense, greed, and hidden corruption of his society through brilliant plays. lbsen's influence helped encourage the writing of problem plays throughout Europe. In England, George I3ernard Shaw elevated the problem play to an intellectual height with his plays and with their long and witty prelbces. ,

**Shavian Drama**

Though Shaw belongs to the late Victorian age, his era is named as Shavian era because he is. one of those writers of English, who has created a special place for himself in the history of English drama, by writing such plays which have clearly demarcated themselves with unique themes as well as their presentation. According to

Shaw, his dramas fall in the category of problem plays, argumentative plays or plays of ideas and all the plays employ society as the basic theme.

His depiction of society in its various hues is carried out through discusSion of the problems prevalent in society in his plays. He uses draina as an , -adept tool to communicate with common people and to guide them in terms amoral issues.; Shaw emphasizes on the point that the social problems such as equal rights for women, matrimonial relationships, parental relationships, social welfare and 'many other concerns of society needed moral development. He also claims that "primarily, [his plays] are not plays: • they are tracts in dramatic forms:"

The purpose of his plays is not so much to make people laugh but to make them comprehend the ludicrousness of certain prejudices and reassess their ideas and attitudes. His dramas revealed different aspects and truths concerning a problem of society with the help of characters of the dramas. The plot is always static but is enlivened by mental actions with the vigorous and brilliant dialogues. His plays can be divided into a specific format that is exposition, complication and discussion. The situations and characters, although not always lifelike, are often used to embody an idea or point of view that the play wants to illustrate. Most of his plays are.informed as having no end as the reader is left free to originate his own· ending that he/she thinks suitable to attach to the drama while some of his plays have endings that give messages related to social problems prevalent In society.

**Social Background of the Drama "Pygmalion"**

Nineteen-fourteen, the year of Pygmalion's the premiere, marked tremendous changes in the British society. Within two weeks of the murder of The Archduke of Austria, in that year, a world war broke out by the end of which 8.5 million people had been killed • and 21 million were wounded. The war constituted•the most severe physical, economic and pSychological assault on the European society. The war brought out Shaw's compassion, as well as his disgust with the European societies that would tolerate the destruction of so many lives. To Shaw, the war only demonstrated more clearly the need for human advancement on an individual and social level, to reach a level of understanding that would prevent such tragic devastation.

In 1914, Great Britain was a strong colonial power and the war hastened the development of nationalism. British pride in its Empire had reached a climax, prior to the death of Queen Victoria in 1901. In addition to providing a symbolic unity to the Empire, the long reign of Queen Victoria (1837-1901) also gave unity to British society through a set of values known as Victorianism. •Victorian values revolved around social high-mindedness, domesticity and· a confidence in the expansion of knowledge and the power of reasoned

**Argument to change society.**

By the time of Victoria's death, many of the more traditional mid-Victorian values were already being challenged, as was the class structure upon which many of these values depended. Victorianism, however, survived in a modified form through the reign of Victoria's son, Edward. "Pygmalion"and the Great War brought a social change, though symbolically.

The growth of industrialization throughout the nineteenth century had a tremendous impact on the organization of British society, which had a tradition of a landed aristocracy and a more hierarchical class system. Industrialization brought about a demographic shift throughout the nineteenth century, with more and more agricultural laborers coming to seek work in the cities. Unskilled laborers like the Doolittles who competed for limited employment were largely at the mercy of employers. Pygmalion suggests the subjectivity of class identity, and the rapid deterioration of many pre-industrial social structures. 8.4 Life and Works of George Bernard Shaw

George Bernard Shaw was born into a poor Protestant family in Dublin, Ireland, on July 26, 1856. He changed schools several times as he grew older, and developed a strong dislike of schools and formal education. He experienced problematic parentage as his father was an alcoholic. When he was a teenager, his mother moved to London and he remained in Dublin with his father for some time. But in 1876, he moved to London to join his mother. His mother introduced him to music and art at an early age. Shaw wrote five unsuccessful novels and It was only in the 1880s that Shaw turned to drama. He became politically active, an ardent supporter of socialism and with a strong background in economics and politics, Shaw rose to prominence through the socialist Fabian Society, which he helped organize in 1884. He also established himself as a persuasive orator and became well known as a critic of art, music, and literature.

An articulate nonconformist, Shaw believed in a spirit he called the 'Life Force' that would help improve and eventually perfect the world. This hope for human and social improvement gave a sense of purpose to much of Shaw's work and had a broad range of effects across many facets of his life, from his vegetarian diet to his satirizing of social pretensions. It also led to his rebellion against the prevailing idea of "art for art's sake".

Shaw was a very prolific writer, writing over 50 plays in addition to articles, reviews, essays, and pamphlets. His plays were frequently banned by censors or refused production, so he sought audiences through open readings and publication. He published his first collection, Plays Pleasant and Unpleasant, in 1898, which included the combative, "unpleasant" works Widowers' Homes, Mrs. Warren's Profession, and The Philanderer; and the milder, more tongue-in-cheek plays Arms and the Man, Candida, The Man of Destiny, and You Never Can Tell.

Throughout his long life, his work expressed a mischievous delight in outstripping ponderous intellectual institutions. His subsequent plays include Man and Superman, a complex idea play about human capability, John Bull's Other Island (1904), a satire of British opinions concerning his native Ireland; Major Barbara (1905), a dazzling investigation of social conscience and reform; Pygmalion (1914); Heartbreak House (1920), an anguished allegory of Europe before the First World War; Back to Methuselah (1922), a legend cycle for Shaw's "religion" of creative evolution; Saint Joan (1923), a startling historical tragedy,

**Pygmalion by George..**

The Apple Cart (1929), one of three later plays Shaw termed "political extravaganzas"; and Buoyant Billions (1948), his last full-length play. Commenting on Shaw's plays, the Royal court stated that his works mark the most important event in the history of the British stage since Shakespeare and Burbage ran the Globe theatre on Bankside.

Shaw received the Nobel Prize for literature in 1925, which was considered to be the high point of his career (although he was still to write seventeen more plays). In later life, he remained a vigorous symbol of the ageless superman he proclaimed in his works, traveling extensively throughout the world and engaging in intellectual and artistic

pursuits. In September, 1950 he fell from an apple tree he was pruning, and on November 2nd of that year he died.

Henry Higgins, Professor of phonetics who studies the pronunciations of people, challenges to transform Eliza Doolittle into a lady Colonel Pickering, A colonel, an academic who studies Indian dialects Freddy Eynsford Hill, comes from a wealthy family and admires Eliza Alfred Doolittle, Eliza's father who sells away his daughter to Prof Higgins in exchange for some money Ezra D. Wannafeller, A wealthy American who leaves money in his will to Mr. Doolittle Women: Eliza Doolittle A flower girl who becomes the subject of Prof Higgins' Challenge Mrs. Higgins, Henry Higgins's mother Mrs. Eynsford Hill, friend of Higgins'mother and mother of Freddy Eynsford Hill and Clara Eynsford Hill Clara Eynsford Hill, young lady from a wealthy family Mrs. Pearce, Higgins's housekeeper Parlour maid to Mrs. Higgins

**Act-1**

Its 11.15 p.m. and people get into the shelter of the portico of St. Paul's Church in Covent Garden, London, as rain lashes at them. Mrs. Eynsford-Hill and her daughter Clara also seek shelter there after watching a play at the theatre and her son Freddy has gone to get a cab for them to reach home. The women wait and are impatient as Freddy takes a long time to get the he dashes out in rain he knocks a flower girl, who was rushing into the shelter, spilling all her cab but returns with none. Both the women are disappointed and insist on his getting one.

As flowers on the floor. As the flower girl, Eliza Doolittle, expresses her despair in her cockney English and makes the mother, Mrs. Eynsford Hill, pay for the spoiled flowers, though she pays rather willingly taking pity on the young poor woman, a gentleman too gets under the shelter and the flower girl approaches him to buy the flowers and he refuses to buy because change. Meanwhile there has been a stranger, who has been noting.down something in his note book. The other bystanders think that he is a spy and that he is noting down something about the flower girl. This observation throws her into jitters and she goes on wailing loudly and making loud rant of her innocence and her good character. The note- taker correctly identifies Eliza's neighborhood simply by listening to her speech. He does the same for various bystanders and amazes all,

including the gentleman who is none but linguistics expert Colonel Pickering, who has coincidentally traveled to London to meet the famous note taker, phonetics expert Henry Higgins.

Professor Higgins admonishes Eliza for her â€œkerbstoneâ€• English, and jokingly asserts to Colonel Pickering that "in three months (he) could pass that girl off as a duchess at an ambassador's garden party."Pickering and Higgins leave to discuss phonetics over dinner, and Freddy arrives with a cab only to discover his mother and sister have gone home on the bus. Eliza, still reeling from Higgins's insults, decides to treat herself to Freddy's cab with the money Higgins threw into her flower basket.

**Act-II**

The next day, Professor Higgins demonstrates his phonetics equipment to Colonel Pickering at his laboratory which is in his home. In a while Mrs. Pearce, the housekeeper, announces the arrival of a young woman. Higgins asks Mrs. Pearce to send the visitor thinking that it's a good opportunity to show the linguist, Colonel Pickering, how he records the sounds. But It's Eliza Doolittle, a little better in her appearance. Eliza asks him to teach her good accent so that she can be a lady in a flower shop instead of a street corner flower girl.

As Higgins mocks at her she says that she has come prepared to pay him. Mrs. Pearce chides Eliza for her ignorance and poor manners, but Higgins begins to consider Eliza's proposal. Pickering reminds Higgins of his boastful proposal and offers to pay for the lessons and all expenses if Higgins can really transform her into a lady that could attend the party of the Governor. Higgins accepts the challenge excitedly and asks Mrs. Pearce to take care of Eliza's appearance by cleaning her and dressing her up properly. Mrs. Pearce warns Higgins that he has to keep in mind details like Eliza's social background and family, before he makes any conclusive decision about training her.

She insists on the point that he must also think about Eliza's future life once he completes the experiment of training her. Higgins is very assured that he is doing Eliza a favor, and with a mixture of chocolates and harsh scolding he coaxes her into staying for the language training. Mrs. Pearce, shows Eliza to a lovely bedroom and bath, and scrubs her clean despite Eliza's protests. When Pickering warns Higgins of the consequences of his keeping. Eliza at home, Higgins assures Pickering that he has only a

professional, not a personal, interest in Eliza, as he does not believe in romantic relationships. Mrs. Pearce warns Professor Higgins that he must be on guard about his language and manners now that a young woman is around and if he really wishes to make Eliza a proper Lady. Around this time Eliza's alcoholic and spendthrift father, Alfred Doolittle arrives enquiring about his daughter. Very soon he comes out open with his real intention that he should be paid in cash in return for Eliza's stay at Higgins's home. Professor Higgins calls Alfred a bluff, but is then impressed by Doolittle's tirade against middle class morality. After a brief encounter with Eliza, whom he does not recognize, Doolittle leaves, pocketing the money paid by Higgins.

**Pygmalion by George.**

**Act-III**

Several months later, the action takes place in Mrs. Higgins's home where she expects visitors. She has a tastefully decorated house quite the opposite of her son's unorganized cluttered quarters. Higgins arrives and his mother is surprised at his unannounced visit at one of her "at home day"'occasions when she would have her guests for some small talk and asks him to leave before embarrassing her in front of the impending visitors. Higgins tells his mother about his experiment with Eliza, and asks Mrs. Higgins to accept Eliza at this "at home day'so that she can exhibit her new skills in front of his mother's guests.

As the mother and son converse about his affairs of work and life Mrs. and Miss Eynsford-Hill, Colonel Pickering, and Freddy arrive one after the other in short intervals. Proving his mother's apprehensions about his behaviour with her friends right, he comments acidly on small talk,. the very purpose of at-home days. When he replies to Miss Eynsford's observation that she prefers people to be out- rightly frank, he gets into a tirade on the ignorance of people. At this moment Eliza arrives and her audience is impressed. She is exquisitely dressed and appears quite well-bred. Freddy is particularly fond of her and expresses it openly. The talk of weather turns to illness, and Eliza forgets her training when she says her aunt was "done in."Eliza shocks and amuses her audience with her cockney expressions. Higgins attempts to come to Eliza's rescue by telling them that Eliza's language is the "new small talk,"the guests admire it even more. Higgins signals Eliza it is time she leaves, and Clara Eynsford- Hill admires the "new small talk", criticizing "this early Victorian prudery."Higgins anxiously enquires with

his mother about her opinion on Eliza and she tells him Eliza is not yet presentable, for although her appearance is impeccable; her language still gives her away.

Professor Higgins and Colonel Pickering are united in praising Eliza about her quick acquisition of dialect and her natural talent on the piano. Mrs. Higgins echoes the feelings of Mrs. Pearce when she questions the duo whether they thought about what would happen to Eliza once the "pretty pair of babies"is done "playing with (their) live doll."Both of them reply that she need not worry about it as Eliza will be able to get some employment. They leave planning to take her to a Shakespearean drama and how she would imitate different. accents. Mrs. Higgins tries to work, but stops, feeling miserable about the way men think and behave.

8.5.5 Act IV

With the six-month deadline approaching, Eliza is presented at a London Embassy. Professor Higgins is surprised to see one of his former pupils, a man who now makes his living as an interpreter and an expert placing any speaker in Europe by listening to his speech. The interpreter speaks to Eliza, and deems her English too perfect for an English woman. The interpreter is further struck by her impeccable manners and announces Eliza must be a foreign princess. The trio returns to Higgins's laboratory after a hectic day of parties and opera where Eliza had successfully presented herself a proper lady.

The men talk very contented of their achievement. When Higgins remarks, "Thank God it's over,' She tries her best to control her emotions when they talk about her as an object and not as a human being with feelings. Suddenly she loses control over herself and hurling his slippers "Eliza is hurt. directly at Higgins, Eliza accuses him of selfishness and inhumanity. She questions him if he has ever thought about what would be her position, once he accomplishes his challenge. Higgins suggests finding a husband for Eliza, and she is further insulted. He tries to console her saying that Pickering would help her set up a flower shop with his money. She grieves over the fact that she could at least sell flowers in her past state and her present lady state' doesn't allow her to be what she wants. She hints to Higgins that she is leaving him as his experiment is over. The scene comes to an end with Higgins' retiring to sleep Storming out of the house, Eliza encounters Freddy, who has been pacing, lovelorn, outside her window. Freddy expresses his love.

### 8.5.7 Act V

The next morning, Pickering and Higgins arrive at Mrs. Higgins's home to inform her of Eliza's absconding from home. Though she knows about this and has Eliza at her home, she feigns that she doesn't know anything about it. She reproaches the men for their treatment of Eliza. At this moment Alfred Doolittle enters, dressed like a gentleman, and informs them that he is on his way to his own wedding. Alfred tells Higgins how his letter to the recently deceased Ezra D. Wannafeller led to Doolittle's share in the wealthy man's trust. Mrs. Higgins announces that Eliza is upstairs and presents her to them. Eliza thanks Colonel Pickering for treating her like a lady and tells him that she could be like a lady because he presented himself a model with his gentleman behaviour but accuses Professor Higgins of always thinking of her as a flower girl.

Asserting her need for self-respect, Eliza says she will not return home to Higgins. Higgins admits that he has not treated Eliza kindly, but reminds her that he is like that in his behaviour with everyone, with no emotional attachment. Admitting that he has "grown accustomed to her, Higgins tells Eliza that he wants her to return, not as a slave or a romantic interest, but as a friend. When Eliza asserts that she has always been as good as Higgins despite her upbringing, the professor is truly impressed. Though the play ends ambiguously, with the possibility of Eliza marrying Freddy, she and Higgins have admitted their non-conventional need for each other.

### 8.6 Summing Up

This lesson has offered a brief overview of the early 20th century drama with a focus on problem plays as presented by the modern theatre. It has discussed the characteristic features of Shavian drama and historical background to the present selection. It also has summed up the life and works of Gorge Bernard Shaw and a brief act-wise summary for better understanding of the play. But we advise you to go through the play for better appreciation. In the next lesson you will study the critical aspects about the play.

### '8.7 Comprehension Check Questions

1. Write about the 'Victorian Theatre'.

2. What is a 'problem play'?

3. What are the features of a 'Shavian play'?

4. What is the focus of the play Pygmalion?

5. What are the themes of the play Pygmalion?

6. Why is the play titled as Pygmalion?

7. What is the idea of Prof. Higgins?

8. What does Eliza Doolittle represent?

9. What aspects of culture does Shaw project?

10. Comment on the theme of the play.

8.7 References

**LESSON -9**
**CRITICAL ASPECTS OF PYGMALION**

Hope you have enjoyed reading the play thoroughly. The previous lesson introduced the, theme through act-wise summary and provided the necessary background for a comprehensive study. This lesson offers the critical aspects of the play.

**Objectives**

After reading the lesson, you will be able to understand the characters through analytical study Analyse the different critical aspects related to the play Structure of the Lesson

9.1 Character Analysis

9.1.1 Eliza Doolittle

9.1.2 Henry Higgins

9.1.3 Alfred Doolittle

9.1.4 Colonel Pickering

9.1.5 Mrs. Higgins

9.1.6 Mrs. Pearce

9.1.7 Miss Clara Eynsford

9.2 The Play as a Satire on Social Manners

9.3 Language and Class

9.4 Theme of Education in the Play

9.5 Summing Up

9.6 Comprehension Check Questions

9.7 References

9.8 Additional Resources

9.1 Character Analysis

9.1.1 Eliza Doolittle

Eliza Doolittle, introduced as the flower-girl of around 18 or 20 years of age, and called variously Liza, Eliza, and Miss Doolittle, is the subject of Higgins and Pickering's experiment in the play because of her cockney language. She is from the slums of London. Though not formally well-educated, she is quick-witted and is a strong character, generally unafraid to stand up for herself. Eliza is 'streetwise' and energetic. She is an intelligent and quick learner, and under the teaching of Pickering and Higgins she quickly learns to act like a lady and pass as a member of the upper class.

Eliza approaches Higgins to teach her suitable English for a lady selling flowers in a shop. As she presents herself in her "shoddy coat" at Higgins's laboratory, Shaw describes the "pathos of this deplorable figure, with its innocent vanity and

consequential air." Beneath the crude visage and behind the horrible speech sounds lies the potential Duchess and a great "work of art."

The Pygmalion-Galatea theme in which a crude piece of marble is transformed into a beautiful statue is presented through Higgins and Eliza. It's quite ironic that Eliza wants to adopt middle-class manners that both Higgins and her father despise. Eliza's ideal is to become a member of the respectable middle class, and in order to do so, she must learn proper pronunciation and manners.

Living apart from her father, Eliza is an independent, strong-minded girl full of vitality. Eliza repeats again and again, "I am a good girl, I am," which is how she voices her self-respect. She is poor not just in terms of money but is also poor in pronunciation, social manners and her ability to express herself. Fortunately, as Higgins and Pickering report to Mrs. Higgins, she has a good ear and plays the piano beautifully at the first hearing and these aptitudes help her make enormous progress.

In spite of her tremendous success at the embassy-ball where she was accepted to be a Duchess without an iota of doubt, Eliza becomes aware of her loss of identity. She cannot sell flowers with her newly-acquired refined English, nor can she go on playing the lady at the Royal Court. Neither Higgins nor Pickering pays attention to her after they come home from the Royal Court. No wonder "Eliza's beauty becomes murderous". She has now realized she has been treated as a guinea pig in an experiment. After throwing his slippers at him, she confronts Higgins saying, "What's to become of me? What's to become of me?" Eliza has awakened as a human being, but Higgins can never be sensitive to her despondent soul. Moreover, he irresponsibly suggests that she should get married. To this suggestion she emphatically retorts: "I sold flowers. I didn't sell myself. Now you've made a lady of me, I'm not fit to sell anything else. I wish you'd left me where you found me."

Eliza's predicament reflects that of Nora at the end of Ibsen's (A)Doll's House. Nora leaves her home in order to be a human being. Higgins has no idea what Eliza is angry at. It is not until she leaves his house that he realizes how important this "squashed cabbage leaf"" has become to his life. A Doll's House ends with Nora's departure from her house; a generation later, Pygmalion offers an opportunity for the woman to elaborate her case.

Eliza tells Pickering, intentionally ignoring Higgins, "... the difference between a lady and a flower girl is not how she behaves but how she's treated. I shall always be a flower girl to Professor Higgins, because he always treats me as a flower girl, and always will; but I know I can be a lady to you, because you always treat me as a lady, and always will." What she means by being a "lady" is not class distinction but the decent treatment of other human beings, or warmer human relationships.

Finally Eliza declares her independence saying she will marry Freddy, and will teach phonetics, in order to support Freddy and herself. This enrages Higgins, who finds it blasphemous of her to steal the secret of his methods and discoveries and teach them to the public. So far Higgins has towered over Eliza as the creator of a "perfect lady." However, when she has grown into an independent woman, Eliza deprives him of his god-like status and demands they be equal human beings. At first Higgins is outraged at the audacious pupil's declaration of independence, but he accepts their new relation: "Five minutes ago you were like a millstone round my neck. Now you're a tower of strength: a consort battleship.

**9.3 Critical Aspects.**

You and I and Pickering will be three old bachelors together instead of only two men and a silly girl." The character of Eliza is best seen by the progression which she makes from "a thing of stone," "a nothingness," a "guttersnipe," and a "squashed cabbage leaf to the final act where she is an "exquisite lady" - totally self-possessed, a person who has in many ways surpassed her creator.

9.1.2 Henry Higgins

Higgins is a brilliant linguist, who studies phonetics and documents, different dialects and ways of speaking. He first appears as the suspicious man jotting down notes on everyone's manner of speech. Shaw describes him as scientific type, heartily, even violently interested in everything that can be studied as a scientific subject, and careless about himself and other people, including their feelings". His manner varies from "genial bullying... to stormy petulance" but he is so entirely frank and void of malice that he remains likeable even in his least reasonable moments."

Higgins is so focused on his academic interest that he lacks compassion and fails to consider other people's feelings or concerns. Instead, he sees people mainly as subjects

of study. He views Eliza, for example, as an experiment and a "phonetic job." Higgins is rude not only to Eliza, but generally to everyone he meets. He is impatient with class hierarchy and the Victorian obsession with manners. As he tells Eliza, he treats everyone in the same way (i.e., rudely) regardless of social class. Thus, while an insensitive character-often a misogynistâ€" Higgins sees through the hypocrisy and fallacies of the Victorian social hierarchy, and savours the opportunity to beat high society at its own game by making Eliza pass as a lady.

Higgins is a bundle of paradoxes. He is a combination of "lovable eccentricities, brilliant achievements, and devoted dedication" to improving the human race. Yet he is completely socially inept; his manners are so bad that his own mother does not want him in her house when she has company, and his manners are so offensive that she will not attend the same church at the same time. His housekeeper, Mrs. Pearce, observes of Higgins that "when you get what you called interested in people's accents, you never think of what may happen to them or you." Higgins gives no thought to Liza's future after his experiment, and he gradually loses interest in it. He is shaken by the independence Liza demonstrates and by the end of the play is able to show a kind of respect to her.

Higgins is a complex yet admirable persona. He rejects middle-class moralities. He admires. 'Doolittles' for their honesty in asserting that they are the undeserving poor. He will devote his scientific skill to changing a flower girl into a duchess. He is ultimately interested in the soul of his creation,Eliza and not in her pronunciation.

We cannot deny his charm: Mrs. Pearce, his housekeeper, has often threatened to leave because of Henry's atrocious manners (improper language, improper dress, bad table behavior, etc.), but she is always charmed into remaining with him. Ultimately, Eliza is also charmed by her association with Higgins and Pickering. Higgins is charismatic, he is also a tyrannical bully; he is amazingly intelligent yet rudely insensitive to the feelings of others; he is god-like in his achievements but childishly petulant in pressing hard for his own way, Thus, his appeal remains partly in the many contradictions that he is heir to. The habit of swearing, losing his temper at the slightest provocation, his consciousness of himself as a Professor of Phonetics, his love for his mother and his devotion to his profession, all these make Higgins a living personality, whom the readers love as well admire.

### 9.1.3 Alfred Doolittle

Alfred is Liza's father, whom Shaw describes as "an elderly but vigorous dustman. well marked and rather interesting features, and seems equally free from fear or conscience. ...a habit of giving vent to his feelings without reserve." Doolittle describes himself as the "undeserving poor," who needs just as much as the deserving but never gets anything because of the disapproval of middle-class morality. Nevertheless, he is a skilled beggar who is capable of finessing loans from the most miserly of people.

When we first meet Doolittle, he comes to Professor Higgins' house in the hypocritical role of the "virtuous father" in order to rescue his "compromised daughter." It is soon discovered, however, that he made her to earn her own living over two years and was never married to Eliza's mother. When the trick of the virtuous father fails, Doolittle quickly changes his pitch and becomes the fawning pimp as he tries to sell his own daughter to the men for almost any price they are willing to pay. Higgins and Pickering are not taken in by his sickening suggestions, however, but they are delighted by Doolittle's poetic use of the English language, by his use of rhetoric that could only be used by a Welshman and by his ingenuity as he tries one method after another until he assumes a philosophical pose.

Eliza doesn't trust her father, and he doesn't seem to show very much fatherly love. When Higgins sarcastically mentions Doolittle's name as Britain's most "original moralist" to a wealthy American named Ezra Wannafeller, he leaves Doolittle a substantial amount of money. However, his newfound wealth and social standing irritate Mr. Doolittle, who thinks little of "middle class morality" or the responsibilities brought on by having any significant amount of money, though at the same time he doesn't have the courage to give up his newfound money. In the last act, Doolittle's character does not essentially change. He has now been forced into the role of a lecturer on moral reforms, and he must now adopt middle- class morality.

Doolittle is not so much a character as he is a vehicle which Shaw manipulates for his own dramatic purposes. Through Doolittle, Shaw is able to make many satirical thrusts at middle- class morality and to make additional comments on class distinctions and on class manners.

9.1.4Colonel Pickering

A phonetics expert like Higgins, this "elderly gentleman of the amiable military type," meets the latter in a rainstorm at the St. Paul's Church. The author of "Spoken Sanskrit," Pickering excels in the five Indian dialects because of his experience in the British colonies there. While he shares Higgins' interest in linguistics, he is not as extreme in his devotion to his intellectual pursuits. Courteous and generous, as well as practical and sensible, he never views Liza as just a flower girl and treats her with the respect due a lady of society.

While he gives Higgins the idea for the bet involving Eliza, he treats Eliza kindly and considers her feelings. It is his calling her 'Miss Doolittle' that actually encourages Eliza to really change. Open-hearted,he finds it easy to sympathize with others and, decidedly unlike Higgins, is conscience-stricken when he fears he's hurt Liza. At the end of the play, he apologizes to Eliza for treating her like the subject of an experiment, unlike the selfish Higgins who never apologizes.

**9.5 Critical Aspects..**

**9.1.5Mrs. Higgins**

Henry Higgins' mother, who hosts the Eynsford Hills at her wealthy home, is a generous and gracious woman. She is frequently exasperated by her son's lack of manners. She is initially upset by Eliza's intrusion into her polite company, but is kind to her and completely sympathizes with Liza when the girl leaves Higgins and takes shelter with her. She tries to tell her son not to treat Eliza like an object or possession, but instead he must consider Eliza's feelings. She is perceptive and intelligent, and capable of putting Henry in his place. It is indicative of Mrs. Higgins's character that after the conflict between her son and Liza, both characters choose to come to her for guidance. While Higgins doesn't listen to her, she does her best to resolve things at least patching things up with Mr. Doolittle, Eliza, and Pickering. She plays an important role and exerts some agency in the play even while constrained by the oppressive gender roles of Victorian society.

9.1.6Mrs. Pearce

Mrs. Pearce is Higgins's middle-class housekeeper.She is very practical. She can be severe and is not afraid of reproaching Higgins for his lack of social graces. She is

conscious of proper behavior and of her position, and quite proud. She is taken aback by the seeming impropriety of Liza coming into the Higgins household but quickly develops a bond with the girl, often defending her from Higgins. She equals Mrs. Higgins in the maturity of her thinking when she warns Higgins of the consequences of training Eliza into a lady and then abandoning her. She shows foresight and wisdom when she expresses that Eliza rather be left to be her present self than putting her in a predicament where she belongs to no identity either of a flower girl or a lady.

9.1.7 Clara Eynsford Hill

Clara,who is from a wealthy family, is fed up with all of the rules of proper manners for her class. She enjoys Eliza's inappropriate conversation (and tells her mother that it is a new, fashionable form of small talk). She comments that manners are simply a matter of habit, and that there is no such thing as right or wrong manners. Though she exhibits a strange impatience at every situation that she is found in, she becomes interesting to the readers with her candid remarks on false class distinction and her rejection of Victorian prudery. She is a typical representative youth of her times rejecting everything outdated and welcoming the 'in thing' in social manners.

## 9.2 The Play as a Satire on Social Manners

The play 'Pygmalion', though written in the late Victorian period, mocks at the decadent Victorian values and satirizes the prudery. Good manners are mostly associated with the upper class at this time and thus they are a marker of class divisions. Higgins's style of treating everyone like dirt, though he says that he is democratic in that, is not satisfactory unlike that of Pickering who treats every one with due respect. It is a touching moment at the end of Pygmalion when Liza thanks Pickering for teaching her manners and pointedly comments that otherwise she would have had no way of learning them. Manners is one of the central themes in Pygmalion. It is related to many of the other themes of the play and highlights the fundamental political and social message Shaw is trying to convey in this work.

Higgins makes a distinction of extent of politeness and subtly expresses the idea that Eliza is from lower class and therefore is not worthy to be treated in a polite manner. Higgins teaches her purely linguistic facets of behavior. But this is a limited achievement for two reasons: first, for Higgins it is simply a job, and secondly, being a

lady is much more than simply being perfect in linguistic form, it is a question of one's whole mode of behavior which is what Pickering has unconsciously taught Eliza. Eliza furnishes several examples of Pickering's good manners: he calls her 'Miss', he stands up, he takes off his hat, he opens doors, and he never takes off his boots in the dining room when Eliza is present.

Pickering naturally and quite casually treats everybody in this way. He does not act in this way only because he is in Eliza's presence; he would act in this way with everybody. He is egalitarian as he treats everybody with same respect. A fundamental point Shaw makes is that 'the difference between a lady and a flower girl is not how she behaves, but how she's treated. I shall always be a flower Girl to Professor Higgins, because he always treats me as a flower girl, and always will; but I know I can be a lady to you [Pickering] because you always treat me as a lady, and always will."What a person is, is based on how that person is considered to be. Just as Eliza learnt to be a guttersnipe, she also learns from Pickering 'really nice manners', i.e., how to be a lady.

### 9.3 Language and Class:

Language, Culture and the society which possesses them are a complex structure supporting and critiquing one another. British society generally.associates language closely with class and consequently with manners and status. From a person's accent, one can determine where the person comes from and usually what the person's socioeconomic background is. Higgins believes that the accent of one is shaped by the environs and it can certainly be transformed.

He uses his teaching, radical in his times, to undo this social marker, paving way for greater societal growth. In an age of setting standard parameters for language such as "the Queen's English," Pygmalion pointsto a much wider range of varieties of spoken English. Shaw thought that characteristics of social identity such as one's sophistication of speech were entirely subjective ones. Though the play overtly comments on the lowly use of language and disparages these varieties of language there's an undercurrent of thought that there cannot be any societal inferiority or superiority to be associated with any language variety.

The language barriers visible are erased with his able training. The play indicates that the language inferiority or superiority is not inherent but mastery can be acquired

quite ably by any one even by one from the "gutter". As for the dialect or vocabulary of any one English variety, such as Cockney, its social value is determined in Pygmalion completely by the context in which it is assessed. While Liza's choice of words as a Cockney flower merchant would be thought as absurd as her accent, they are later perceived by the mannered Eynsford Hill family to be the latest trend, when they are thought to emanate from a person of noble breeding.

### 9.4Theme of Education

The contribution of Bernard Shaw to the modern English drama is noteworthy. In writing plays, Shaw had the decisive intention of transforming the society to his views and ideas. G.K. Chesterton says: "Bernard Shaw has much affinity to Plato in his instinctive elevation of temper, his courageous pursuit of ideas as far as they will go; his civic idealism, and also, it must be confessed, in his dislike of poets and a touch of delicate inhumanity." (GeorgeBernard Shaw: 53). some of the problems with the Victorian social hierarchy, Thus, while Higgins and Pickering might appear to be the play's two educated, intelligent men,different characters exemplify different forms of intelligence.

### 9.5 Summing Up

This lesson provided you with a detailed analysis of characters along with the other aspects like the play as a satire on social manners, its views on language as social tool; and the theme of education and development. The links provided under references and additional sources will enhance your critical vision.

### 9.6 Comprehension Check Questions

1. Write briefly on the training of Eliza by Higgins and her evolution into a Lady..

2. Sketch the character of Eliza Doolittle.

3. How can you say that Pygmalion is a satire on social manners?

4. Discuss the theme of education in Pygmalion.

5. How is Pickering different from Higgins?

9.7 References

**UNIT-3**

## 6. JOHN JAMES OSBORNE :LOOK BACK IN ANGER

Look Back in Anger, wherever it may stand in 20th century British Drama or even in the final accounting of John Osborne's own work, has its unarguable importance as the beginning of a revolution in the British theatre and as the central and most

immediately influential expression of the mood of its time, the mood of the angry young man, says John Russel Taylor. 8th May 1956 is an epoch-making date when this play had its first night at the Royal court. Obviously it was not revolution, writes Hayman, that happened overnight but Osborne did more than anyone to popu- larize the new type of hero and the new type of actor.

Not that anger is really the right word. Osborne used it in his title and angry young man stayed in fashion as a catch phrase for a long time but anger has to be directed against something and if you are angry about everything, then you are not really angry. Jimmy Porter pours the same sulphuric energy into the attacks he launches on every thing that surrounds him - Alison, Cliff, Helena, the Sunday papers, the social system, women in general, Conservative Members of Parliament, Sunday cinema audiences, Billy Graham, the H. Bomb, people who don't like Jazz, Phoney politeness, nostalgia for the imperial past, Wordsworth, Alison's mother, people who have never watched anyone dying, the Church, the apa- thy of every one else in a generation that has anything to be positive about. (John Osborne, pp. 3-4)

In the words of John Banham: "Because Look Back in Anger was the first manifestation of a new deal for the English theatre, it has tended to be set aside as an object of awe and a result to have acquired the aura of a museum piece" (Osborne, P.10). 'Angry Young Man' was the title of a work by Leslie Paul in 1951. The new Drama was the 1950s which superseded in public favour the 'old' drama of Eliot and Fry was not the New Drama of William Archer which formerly superseded the 'old' drama of the Elizabethans. It was mainly a prose drama reminiscent of the 'expressionist' prose drama of O' Neill and owed less to them and Shaw than to Brecht and Sartre (George Sampson, p.912).

The immediate reaction of the Press was poor. The Manchester guardian called it "muddled first drama" The Times wrote: The total gesture is altogther' inadequate. The Daily Mirror was of the view that the play was "neurotic exaggerated and more than slightly distasteful". The Briminghram Post remarked: "I look back in anger upon a night misconceived and misspent" The Evening Standard found "a self pitying snivel" in the play New Statesman wrote: "As a play Look Back in Anger, hardly exists" To The Daily Express the play was 'undisciplined'. The Daily worker said that the ending lets us down with a sickening melodramatic khud".

But even the unfavourable Press reviews recognize the brutality and power in Osborne's writing. Kenneth Tynan wrote perceptively in the Observer: What with his flair for introspection, his gift for ribald parody, his excoriating candour, his contempt for 'phoneyness', his weakness for soliloquy, this desperate conviction that the time is out of joint Jimmy Porter is the completest young pup in our literature since Hamlet Prince of Denmark Look Back in Anger presents postwar forth as it really is with special emphasis on the non-U intelligentsia who live in bed-sitters and divide the Sunday Papers into two groups posh and wet.

To have done this at all would have been a signal achievement; to have done it in a first play is a minor miracle. All the qualities are there, qualities one had despaired of ever seeing on the stage-the drift towards anarchy, the instinctive leftishness, the automatic rejection of official attitudes, the surrealist sense of humour, the casual promiscuity, the sense of lacking a crusade worth fighting for and underlying all these the determination that no one who dies shall go unmourned" (Banham, Osborne, pp.22-25)

Lumley is of the view: "Even if Look Back in Anger is not the best play of the decade it can called the most important, a play which established a new intellectual climate, return to a dire ness of language long absent, can have an important influence on the future. Gassner on the oth hand thinks of the play as the conclusion rather than the beginning of play writing, that the effe of the work as a whole is likely to be less gratfying than the effect of individual scenes. Osbor himself regards it as an old fashioned play. But he may eventually be remembered, says Banha best for the paticular shock he administered to a languishing national drama on 8 May 19 (Osborne, p.27).

It is always, in one sense, a remarkable play, writes Raymond Williams, th achieves this public alteration of style; as a genuine power can effectively dramatize the necessa sense of release. At the same time any particular play which achieves this gets a historical weigl a representative importance which is often more than in itself it can bear (Drama from Ibsen Brecht, p.366). It is relevant to note that play is not a break through in 1956, but a delay recognition of an already altered style, that it is not the emergence of a working class drama, that is not a documentary of youth and poverty, that it was a new voice different from Eliot and F that the play is not just a blues

rhythm, that it is not a fusion of class war and sex war, that it rough shouting at cruelty and indifference through cruelty and indifference, that this break throu becomes period voices and period atmosphere. Cazamian sums up thus:

"The play brought Osbor fame overnight and became the origin of the phrase Angry Young men. His success was partly success de Scandale. Osborne sneers at the fundamental articles of a gengleman's code by deridi respect for one's neighbour, the foundation stone of good breeding, tries to demolish the Christi structure of British civilization Jimmy, Osborne's hero, is a bull in a China shop until the belate emotional scene in which the spouses are reconciled. It may have been this final drop of rose wat poured into the gall and vitriol that made the fill acceptable. These do not explain the permane pride of place that the play occupies.

There is a close harmony between the times we live in and t brutality of Osborne's style served by an exclusive technique that makes the whole interest depe on the intransigent assertions of an importunate malcontent. The disarming egoism of these your sters up against the hard facts of life is expressed with sincerity. The weakness is in the treatme of the plot. There is no solution either political, metaphysical or aesthetic. The revolution is 1 constructive but is mixed up with Osborne's temperament. Osborne's intellectual ability and tech cal skill express themselves in varied directions" (A History of English Litt. pp. 1437-1438) The mi features of Look Back in Anger may be tabulated thus.

**JOHN JAMES OSBORNE -Look back in ange:**

**1. It is a play of interludes. The Stage craft is primitive. It is an old fashioned play.**

The ending is said to be ironical by Osborne himself. Tynan refers to the painful whimsey of the final reconciliation scene. Gascoigne thinks it is a good ending as the pattern of the play is a circle indicating agony again. Richardson on the other hand thinks the ending hopeful with the improve- ment in their relations.

**2.** It is a one man play in the sense that all others are eclipsed by Jimmy Porter. There is no conversation among characters but lectures by the Hero. The wit and the abuse and the jokes in the lectures are the most enlivening in the theatre. The play is a tirade - scathing criticism of every. thing around. In the absence of action the interest is kept buyoyant by these speeches.

3. The play is said to be a revolution in contents. The one room flat and the educated Hero keeping a sweet stall are theatrical revolutions. Disaffection becomes a credo. If Jimmy is so offensive and unpleasant how does he win the sympathy of the audience? Obviously because the world fails to appreciate one so active and intelligent though Jimmy Porter's lashing at society is negative, not constructive like Shaw's, for instance. Jimmy Porter is like the Jacobean malcontent without his Machiavellianism.

**4.** The excellence of Osborne lies in up-to-dating the British drama, by making the stage a weapon. The play was either a breath of fresh air to the first audiences or an inexcusable release of a most unwelcome stench. To take a simple item Jimmy Porter expresses fear and hatred of Alison, of women in general. Is this a variation on the theme of the evolutionary appetite in Shaw? Woman is the hunter or huntress and man is the hunted. Woman ruins a man's genius to make him a bread winner for her family. Curiously when Alison loses her baby, she becomes acceptable to Jimmy. The battle of the sexes at the beginning of the play between Jimmy and Alison - becomes the union of the bear and the squirrel; the pair becomes a pair of little furry creatures with little furry brains, full of dumb uncomplicated affection for each other, playful careless creatures in their own Cosy Zoo for two" (p.47)

Act I opens with the Porters' one room flat in a large Midland town. It is early evening in April. Jimmy Porter and Cliff are busy with the newspapers and weeklies. Alison, Jimmy's wife is leaning over the ironing board. In Act 3-1 this is repeated; Helena leans over the ironing board with a pile of clothes beside her. She also wears a shirt of Jimmy's as Alison wears in Act I. It is Jimmy's nature to be offensive or unpleasant about Alison's or Cliff's ignorance. There is reference to the advocacy of H. Bomb by the Bishop of Bromley Jimmy has a dig at his wife if Bishop of Bromley is the nom de plume of her Daddy.

Somehow Jimmy's relations with Alison or Helena do not ring happy. He has a great fear and hatred of women. Towards the end of the Act he says: "She has the passion of a python. She just devours me whole everytime as if I were some over large rabbit" (p.37). Alison tells Helena in Act 3-2: He wants something quite different from us, what it is exactly I do not know a kind of cross between a mother and a Greek Courteasan, hench woman, a mixture of Cleopatra and Bosell (p.91) on the other hand there is a rough-and-tumble kindness and tenderness between Jimmy and Cliff, "Damn You, damn both of you, damn them all" sums up Jimmy; his private resentment becomes public resentment. Cliff's trousers look awful. Alison is prepared to press them into presentable appearance.

We get our cooking from Paris. ur politics from Moscow and our morals from Port Said, says Jimmy. There is talk of Webster who has bite edge, drive, enthusiasm and Madeline, Jimny's mistress at the age of 18 to sit with whom as the top of a bus was like setting out with Ulysses (p.19). Jimmy refers to Alison's brother Nigel - th platitude from outer space - the chinless wonder from sandhurst who deserves a medal "for vaguer! in the field " and seeks sanctuary in his own stupidity. This indicates Jimmy's animus against hi wife's middle class back ground.

He has his outburst against Alison's mummy. "She would bellow like a rhinoceros in labou énough to make every male rhino for miles turn white and pledge himself to celibacy" (p.52). The why did she marry Jimmy? Or why did Jimmy? For revenge! Col Redfern remarks "I alway believed that people married each other because they were in love. But apparently that is to simple for young people now-a-days. They have to talk about challenges and revenge" (p.67). Aliso is Lady Pusillanimous. Jimmy directs a tirade against women; a woman in front of her bed roor mirror is a refined sort of butcher. He recounts his experiences of his Flat underneath a couple c girls. Jimmy and Cliff have a friendly tussle. Cliff falls on the ironing Board which collapses. Aliso hurts her arm on the iron. Cliff is all tenderness, applies soap to the injured part or burn. Sh confesses to him that she is pregnant.

They are found of each other. Cliff wonders why the hell sh married Jimmy (p.31). Jimmy calls Cliff a randy little mouse who can pair off with Alison. Whe Cliff exitts to purchase cigarettes, Jimmy expresses his deep love for Alison "Nearly four years ( being in the same room with you, night and day, and I still can't stop my sweat breaking

out when see you doing something as ordinary as leaning over an ironing board" (p.43). The great-eye squirrel and the bear make merry (p.34). The symbolism of Bear and Squirrel occurs again an again in the play.

Jimmy is the Bear Alison is the squirrel. In Act II Alison tells Helena, "You se that bear and that squirrel? Well, that is him, and that is me" (p.47). The ending ofcourse repeal this imagery. "We will be together in our bear's cave and our Squirrel's drey and we will live o honey and nuts" (p.96). Helena Charless phones to Alison that she would stay with them. Jimm pries into Alison's handbag though Cliff tells him it is bad manners. Jimmy tells Alsion: "If yo could have a child and it would die" almost ominously, prophetically and premonitorily. That what precisely happens to Alison later.

Act 2-1: Two weeks later on an evening Helena Charles arrives. she questions Alison about h love for Cliff as she and Jimmy tear the insids out of each other (p.28). They prefound of each othe that is all. Alison narrates her married life to Helena. They lived in Hugh's Flat. Hugh and Jimm two educated people were savage and uncompromising. But Cliff and Jimmy are always friendl We both come from working people, says Cliff (p.30).

Jimmy and Alison, after marriage, gatecras every where inviting themselves to the house of friends and relatives. Alison fell for him because the howl of protest from her own family. At a party she met him. He looked so frail and young ar odd that every one showed contempt for him. Alison creates a rumpus in Hugh's household, accor ing to Hugh's mother. Hugh goes abroad. Helena advises Alison to fight or get out or he will kill y (p.47). Jimmy recites the poem he wrote. *So avoid that old python coil And pass me the celibate oil.*

5.Alison and Helena wish to go to Chuch. Jimmy mentions how he rescued Alison from Mummy's clutches who objected to his long hair which he preferred and preserved as he had better things to think of than haircut. Helena objects to his offensive language and his account of marriage in the Church. Jimmy tells Helena that she should not make the mistake of thinking for one moment that he is a gentleman and that he would lay her if slapped. He saw his father dying and became at an early age 'angry and helpless' (p.58). Helena who says: "I want to see your face rubbed in the

mud He makes me want to claw his hair by the roots" (p.60) slaps Jimmy after the exit of Alison in 2-2 and kisses him passionately and goes to bed with him. Cliff says that he has been a no-man's land beteen Alison and Jimmy and but for him everything would have been over between them long ago (p.60) Helena tells Alison that she sent a wire to her father to fetch her home. Hugh's mother has a stroke and Jimmy goes to her.

Redferm comes the following evening to fetch his daughter Alison. They reminisce about Jimmy who described Redfern as "one of those Sturdy old plants left over from the Ed- wardian wilderness that can't understand why the sun is not sining any more (p.66). Redferm has a word of praise for Jimmy's candour and turn of phrase and actually believes that there is truth in Jimmy's remark. He fails ofcourse to understand "young people now-a-days" Redfern is hurt be- cause everything is changed; Jimmy is hurt because everything is the same (p.68).

Alison goes away with her father. Helena or Cliff would breathe the news to Jimmy who comes later and rages against Alison and her bloody wet sentimentality and phoneyness in "I shall always have a deep loving need of you" (p.72). Helena informs him that Alison is going to have a baby. Jimmy is angry that the bitch of his wife wouldn't send a bunch of flowers to Hugh's dying mother whom he has been watching for eleven hours. Helena slaps him and beds with him.

Act 3-1: Several months later on a Sunday evening we find the same situation as at the beginning of the play: the only change is Alison is replaced by Helena who voluntarily quits at the end of the 2 scene in Act 3. Cliff and Jimmy refer to grotesque and evil practices to the Coptic goddess of fertillity in the Midlands in the papers. People kid themselves that they sacrifice but they sacrifice something they are incapable or really wanting. Some American Professores from Yale try to prove that Shakespeare changed his sex while writing the Tempest. This shows Osborne's utter contempt for critics and reviewers, Jimmy is told by Cliff that he wishes to try something different and quit the flat: I seem to spend my life saying good bye, he says (p.84). If Cliff's feet hurt, he suggests that he should wash his socks-a tenderness he does not show even to Helena. Cliff is worth half a dozen Helenas to him loyal generous good friend.

He tells Helena is a sloppy rritating basterd; but he has got a bigheart (p.85) In the best known speech in the play. I suppose people of our generation are not able die for good cause any longer. There aren't any good brave causes left. No, there is nothing left for it, my boy, but to let yourself be butchered the women (pp.84-85). In this now famous speech, it is interesting that what is communicated, writes Rymond Williams, in a way from behind the effective idiom is an unusual complex, in fact evident through out the play of a kind of social despair and a fear and hatred of women (Drama from Ibsen to Bretch, p. 368). Jimmy tells Helena: "I will make such love to you, you will not care about anything else at all:" (p. 86). And then Alison enters.

3-2 A few minutes later Alison teils Helena that it was unfair and cruel of her to be there. Helena tells her: " you have more right to be here than I". Alison's replay comes pat:

**LESSON 14**

**HAROLD PINTER'S THE BIRTHDAY PARTY**

**Objectives**

**After going through the lesson, you will be able to**

Understand the aspects of the Twentieth Century Drama

**· Know about the Absurd Theatre**

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**Know the Life and Works of Harold Pinter**

**Structure of the Lesson**

**14.1 History of Twentieth Century Drama**

14.2. The Absurd Theatre

**14.3. Life and Works of Harold Pinter**

**14.4. Summing Up**

14.5 Comprehension Check Questions

## 14.1 History of Twentieth Century Drama

After World War I, Western drama became more internationally unified and throughout the century, realism, naturalism, and symbolism (and various combinations of these) continued to form important plays. Among the many 20th-century playwrights who have written what can be broadly termed naturalist dramas are Gerhart Hauptmann (German), John Galsworthy (English), John Millington Synge and Sean O'Casey (Irish), and Eugene O'Neill, Clifford Odets, and Lillian Hellman (American).

An important movement in early 20th-century drama was expressionism. Expressionist playwrights tried to convey the dehumanizing aspects of 20th-century technological society. The 20th century also saw the attempted revival of drama in verse, but although such writers as William Butler Yeats, W. H. Auden, T. S. Eliot, Christopher Fry, and Maxwell Anderson produced effective results, verse drama was, no longer an important form in English.

Three vital figures of 20th-century drama are the American Eugene O'Neill, the German Bertolt Brecht, and the Italian Luigi Pirandello. O'Neill's body of plays with naturalistic, expressionist, symbolic, psychological themes won him the Nobel Prize in Literature in 1936. Brecht wrote dramas of ideas, usually promulgating socialist or Marxist theory. For Pirandello too, it was paramount to fix an awareness of his plays as theater, indeed, the major philosophical concern of his dramas is the difficulty of differentiating between illusion and reality.

World War II and its attendant horrors produced a widespread sense of the utter meaninglessness of human existence. This sense is expressed in the body of plays that are known collectively as the 'theater of the absurd'. By abandoning traditional devices of the drama, including logical plot development, meaningful dialogue, and intelligible characters, absurdist playwrights sought to convey modern humanity's feelings of bewilderment, alienation, and despair-the sense that reality is itself unreal. In their plays human beings often portrayed as dupes, clowns, who, although not without dignity, are at the mercy of forces that are inscrutable.

Probably the most famous plays of the theater of the absurd are Eugene Ionesco's Bald Soprano (1950) and Samuel Beckett's Waiting for Godot (1953). The sources of the theater of the absurd' are diverse; they can be found in the tenets of surrealism, Dadaism (see Dada), and existentialism; in the traditions of the music hall, vaudeville, and burlesque; and in the films of Charlie Chaplin and Buster Keaton.

The pessimism and despair of the 20th century also found expression in the existentialist dramas of Jean-Paul Sartre, in the realistic and symbolic dramas of Arthur Miller, Tennessee Williams, and Jean Anouilh, and in the surrealist plays of Jean Cocteau. After the violence of World War II and the subsequent threat of the atomic bomb, his approach seemed particularly appropriate to many playwrights. Elements of the 'theater of cruelty' can be found in the brilliantly abusive language of John Osborne's Look Back in Anger (1956) and Edward Albee's Who's Afraid of Virginia Woolf? (1962), in the ritualistic aspects of some of Genet's plays, in the masked utterances and enigmatic silences of Harold Pinter's "comedies of menace," and in the orgiastic abandon of Julian Beck's Paradise Now! (1968); it was fully expressed in Peter Brooks's production of Peter Weiss's Marat/Sade (1964).

During the last third of the 20th century a few continental European dramatists, such as Dario Fo in Italy and Heiner Müller in Germany, stand out in the theater world. However, for the most part, the countries of the continent saw an emphasis on creative trends in directing rather than a flowering of new plays.

In the United States and England, however, many dramatists old and new continued to flourish, with numerous plays of the later decades of the 20th cent. (and the early 21st cent.), echoing the trends of the years preceding them.Realism in a number of forms like psychological, social, and political continued to be a force in such British works. A witty surrealism also characterized some of the late 20th century's

theater, particularly the brilliant wordplay and startling juxtapositions of the many plays of England's Tom Stoppard

The late decades of the 20th century were also a time of considerable experiment and iconoclasm. Experimental dramas of the 1960s and 70s by such groups as Beck's Living Theater and Jerzy Grotowski's Polish Laboratory Theatre were followed by a mixing and merging of various kinds of media with aspects of postmodernism, improvisational techniques, performance art, and other kinds of avant-garde theater.

Thematically, the social upheavals of the 1960s, 70s, and 80s-particularly the civil rights and women's movements, gay liberation, and the AIDS crisis-provided impetus for new plays that explored the lives of minorities and women. Feminist, other women-centered themes and gay themes dramatized by contemporary female playwrights were plentiful in the 1970s and extended in the following decades.

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## 14.2 The Absurd Theatre

Harold Printer's...

Esslin regarded the term "Theatre of the Absurd"merely as a "device" by which he meant to bring attention to certain fundamental traits discernible in the works of a range of playwrights. The playwrights loosely grouped under the label of the absurd, attempt to convey their sense of bewilderment, anxiety, and wonder in the face of an inexplicable

universe.

According to Esslin, the five defining playwrights of the movement are Eugène Ionesco, Samuel Beckett, Jean Genet, Arthur Adamov, and Harold Pinter, although these writers were not always comfortable with the label and sometimes preferred to use terms such as "Anti-Theater" or "New Theater". Other playwrights associated with this type of theatre include Tom Stoppard, Arthur Kopit, Friedrich Dürrenmatt, Fernando Arrabal, Edward Albee, N.F. Simpson, Boris Vian, Peter Weiss, Vaclav Havel, and Jean Tardieu.

Although the 'Theatre of the Absurd' is often traced back to avant-garde experiments of the 1920s and 1930s, its roots, in actuality, date back much further.

Absurd elements first made their appearance shortly after the rise of Greek drama, in the wild humor and buffoonery of Old Comedy and the plays of Aristophanes in particular.

The 'Theatre of the Absurd' was also anticipated in the dream novels of James Joyce and Franz Kafka who created archetypes by delving into their own subconscious and exploring the universal, collective significance of their own private obsessions. Silent film and comedy, as well as the tradition of verbal nonsense in the early sound films of Laurel and Hardy, W.C. Fields, and the Marx Brothers would also contribute to the development of the Theatre of the Absurd, as did the verbal "nonsense" of François Rabelais, Lewis Carroll, Edward Lear, and Christian Morgenstern. But it would take a catastrophic world event to actually bring about the birth of the new movement.

World War II was the catalyst that finally brought the Theatre of the Absurd to life. The global nature of this conflict and the resulting trauma of living under threat of nuclear annihilation put into stark perspective the essential precariousness of human life. Suddenly, one did not need to be an abstract thinker in order to be able to reflect upon absurdity: the experience of absurdity became part of the average person's daily existence.

Antonin Artaud (1896-1948) rejected realism in the theatre, calling for a return to myth and magic and to the exposure of the deepest conflicts within the human mind. He demanded a theatre that would produce collective archetypes and create a modern mythology. It was no longer possible, he insisted, to keep using traditional art forms and standards that had ceased being convincing and lost their validity. Although he would not live to see its development, The 'Theatre of the Absurd' is precisely the new theatre that Artaud was dreaming of. It openly rebelled against conventional theatre. It was, as Ionesco called it "anti- to be completely gibberish. And, not surprisingly, the public's first reaction to this new theatre was incomprehension and rejection.

Samuel Beckett's Waiting for Godot is the most famous, and most controversial, absurdist play. The characters of the play are strange caricatures who have difficulty communicating the simplest of concepts to one another as they bide their time awaiting the arrival of Godot. The language they use is often ludicrous, and following the cyclical pattern, the play seems to end in precisely the same condition it began, with no real change having. occurred. In fact, it is sometimes referred to as "the play where

nothing happens. "Its detractors count this a fatal flaw and often turn red in the face fomenting on its inadequacies.

It is mere gibberish, they cry, eyes nearly bulging out of their head--a prank on the audience disguised as a play. The play's supporters, on the other hand, describe it is an accurate parable on the human condition in which "the more things change, the more they are the same."Change, they argue, is only an illusion. In 1955, the famous character actor Robert Morley predicted that the success of Waiting for Godot meant "the end of theatre as we know it."His generation may have gloomily accepted this prediction, but the younger generation embraced it. They were ready for something new-something that would move beyond the old stereotypes and reflect their increasingly complex understanding of existence.

Whereas traditional theatre attempts to create a photographic representation of life as we see it, the 'Theatre of the Absurd' aims to create a ritual-like, mythological, archetypal, allegorical vision, closely related to the world of dreams. The focal point of these dreams is often man's fundamental bewilderment and confusion, stemming from the fact that he has no answers to the basic existential questions: why we are alive, why we have to die, why there is injustice and suffering. Ionesco defined the absurdist everyman as "Cut off from his religious, metaphysical, and transcendental roots ...lost; all his actions become senseless, absurd, useless."

The 'Theatre of the Absurd', in a sense, attempts to reestablish man's communion with the universe. Dr. Jan Culik writes, "Absurd, Theatre can be seen as an attempt to restore the importance of myth and ritual to our age, by making man aware of the ultimate realities of his condition, by instilling in him again the lost sense of cosmic wonder and primeval anguish. The Absurd Theatre hopes to achieve this by shocking man out of an existence that has become trite, mechanical and complacent. It is felt that there is a mystical experience in confronting the limits of human condition."

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One of the most important aspects of absurd drama is its distrust of language as a means of communication. Language, it seems to say, has become nothing but a vehicle for conventionalized, stereotyped, meaningless exchanges. Dr. Culik explains, "Words failed to express the essence of human experience, not being able to penetrate beyond

its surface. The 'Theatre of the Absurd' constituted first and foremost an onslaught on language, showing it as very unreliable and insufficient tool of communication. Absurd drama conventionalised speech, clichés, slogans and technical jargon, which it distorts, parodies and breaks down. By ridiculing conventionalised and stereotyped speech patterns, the Theatre of the Absurd tries to make people aware of the possibility of going beyond everyday speech conventions and communicating more authentically." Absurd drama subverts logic. It relishes the unexpected and the logically impossible.use



**14.5 Harold Printer's**

The 'Theatre of the Absurd' was a product of a very specific point in time and, because that time has passed, it has gone the way of the dinosaur. In a revised edition of his seminal work, Martin Esslin disagrees: "Every artistic movement or style has at one time of another been the prevailing fashion. If it was no more than that, it disappeared without trace. If it had a genuine content, if it contributed to an enlargement of human perception, if it created new modes of human expression, if it opened up new areas of experience, however, it with the Theatre of the Absurd which, apart from having been in fashion, undoubtedly was a was bound to be absorbed into the main stream of development. And this is what happened genuine contribution to the permanent vocabulary of dramatic expression.... [it] is being absorbed into the mainstream of the tradition from which ...it had never been entirely absent ...The playwrights of the post-Absurdist era have at their disposal, then, a uniquely enriched vocabulary of dramatic technique. They can use these devices freely, separately and in infinite variety of combinations with those bequeathed to them by other dramatic conventions of the past."

**14.3 Life and Works of Harold Pinter**

Harold Pinter was born on October 10, 1930. He has presented the characteristics of the Absurd theatre in the background of the English ethos.Harold Pinter is in the forefront in bringing forth changes in the British theatre: Whatever forms theatre has taken in the present period, only that theatre has survived which catered to the likes of the audience avoiding all that which the audience does not favour. During the 1950s the

verse drama came into vogue, but it did not succeed in refining the tastes of the theatre-goers. The verse drama of Yeats, Eliot and Fry gained limited popularity only. The European drama was given a vital shape by Samuel Beckett, Jean Paul Sartre, Eugene Ionesco. Arthur Adamov, Bertolt Brecht and others, for it emerged with a wider perspective and could deal with a variety of human problems.

*His plays include The Room (1957), The Birthday Party (1958), The Dumb Waiter (1959), The Caretaker (1960), The Lover (1962), The Homecoming (1965), No Man's Land (1975), Mountain Language (1988), Moonlight (1993), Ashes to Ashes (1996) and Celebration (2000).*

He was awarded a CBE in 1966, the German Shakespeare Prize in 1970, the Austrian State Prize for European Literature in 1973 and the David Cohen British Literature Prize in 1995, and holds honorary degrees from the Universities of Reading, Glasgow, East Anglia and Bristol, among others In 2001 he was awarded the S T Dupont Golden PEN Award by the English Centre of International PEN His most recent publication, War (2003), is a collection of eight poems and one speech inspired by the subject of conflict Harold Pinter is married to the writer Lady Antonia Fraser and lives in London In 2005, he was awarded the Nobel Prize for Literature.

Pinter has achieved the ultimate distinction for a living dramatist. He has spawned his own adjective: Pinteresque,which is generally applied to a situation fraught with menace in which common speech camouflages a ferocious battle for territory. But there is much more to Pinter than masked conflict and hidden threat.

His pervading theme is memory: the way our existence is haunted by a recollection, however fallible or imaginary, of some vanished world in which everything was secure, certain and fixed In The Birthday Party, in Stanley's recollections of his days as a concert pianist, you hear the characteristic Pinter note: a yearning for some lost Eden as a refuge from the uncertain present. But the play is also clearly a political metaphor for the oppression of the individual by the state; and it's no accident that Pinter himself, as a young man, had risked imprisonment for his conscientious objection to enlistment in war. Harold Pinter passed away on 24 December 2008.

### 14.4 Summing Up

This lesson has introduced the background of Twentieth Century Drama and the basic history next lesson, you will know more about the playwright and his prescribed play The Birthday of the 'Theatre of the Absurd'. Harold Pinter was a successful and critical playwright. In the *Party*.

**14.5 Comprehension Check Questions**

1. Name some of the prominent 20th century playwrights.

2. Who attempted verse drama in English?

3. How can you group absurdist playwrights? 4. Whose plays stand for 'theatre of cruelty'?

5. What kind of plays were produced during the late 20th century theater?

6. Write about Martin Esslin.

7. What is the contribution of Antonin Artaud?

8. What made Samuel Becket the greatest playwright?

9. What are the aspects of the 'absurd theatre'?

**LESSON15**

**ASPECTS OF PINTER'S PLAYS AND ACT-WISE SUMMARY OF THE BIRTHDAY PARTY**

**Objectives**

After going through the lesson, you will be able to Understand the aspects of Pinter's plays

Appreciate and analyse the theme of the play through its act-wise summary

**Structure of the Lesson**

**15.1 Aspects of Pinter's Plays**

**15.2 Nature of 'Pinteresque' Style**

**15.3 Source of the Play**

*15.4 About the Success of The Birthday Party*

*15.5 Summary of the Play TheBirthday Party*

**15.6 Characters in the Play**

**15.7 Act-Wise Summary**

15.7.1 Act-1

15.7.2 Act-2

15.7.3 Act-3

15.8 Summing Up

**15.9 Comprehension Check Questions**

**15.9.1 References**

**15.9.2 Additional Sources**

**15.1 Aspects of Pinter's Plays**

Pinter's plays possess a suggestive power which is not found in the works of many contemporary dramatists.Pinter was an outspoken pacifist throughout his adult life. Like the existentialist playwrights, Pinter has given expression to the haplessness and anxiety felt by the individual in the modern society dominated by despotic groups and crime syndicates. individual is dragged into the mire of corruption and nefarious activities. Hence Pinter's Pinter likes to show the inevitable contradictions faced by people in today's world. The characters are pessimistic and function as tools in the hands of malign powers. The undercurrent of social illness pushes the individual hither and thither and the protagonist loses the sense of direction and purpose in the plays of Pinter. Pinter's plays take the reader directly into the controversial areas of modern life wherein the individual has to follow without any protest the dictates of persons and institutions which have no regard for the aspirations of the common man.

In the plays of Pinter the atmosphere is charged with fear and threat to the natural harmony of life. Though Pinter depends on the form of comedy than that of tragedy, this does not decrease the hidden menace against the characters who want to escape

from the forces of evil. Pinter's plays have been rightly called the 'comedies of meniace'. The Swedish Academy in its announcement that Pinter had been awarded the prize,mentioned, "Pinter restored theater to its basic elements: an enclosed space and unpredictable dialogue where people are at the mercy of each other and pretence crumbles."

Pinter's plays are not intricate but are easy to grasp. Pinter's strength lies in his dialogue. Brevity is its hallmark and it naturally gives rise to many shades of meaning. "Pinter was without question the most influential English playwright of the postwar," New Yorker magazine critic John Lahr told The Times in 2005. "He streamlined the nature of the stage and changed the way we hear language." Following the traditions of the Absurd theatre, Pinter has debunked the excessive stress on language and logic.

In terms of Pinter's language, everyone talks about the pauses, the famous Pinter pauses. Pinter says in the beginning that he makes use of the pauses because "he just didn't want the actors to run on". He has had to admit there is much more to it, that there is as much eloquence in the silences as there is in the language, and what is going on during them is compulsory to understand, and so that's a great challenge for actors--to find out what's being said when they're not speaking.

It's a very active play for the audience; it's as if the audience must become a kind of sleuth, piecing together the clues. In Pinter, there's never an extra syllable, there's never an extra word. "He uses language as a weapon; he uses language as a seduction; he uses language as a way to upset or amuse an audience in an altogether new way. His craft is extraordinary, so deft it appears effortless. He's a master.'

Early in his career Pinter was compared to Samuel Beckett, the Irish playwright, for the "psychic distress of his characters, their vaudeville-like brutishness and the disjointed dialogue that conveys their despair. Pinter frustrates the audience's need for the "truth". Pinter himself has denied the presence of allegorical meaning in his plays.

Pinter writes for a proscenium arch stage. Pinter's impact on the theatre and on literature in general has led to his name passing into general use as a byword for his style. Pinter's best-known literary mannerism was the pregnant pause in dialogue between characters who feel vaguely threatened.It became such an acknowledged feature of his writing that the term "Pinteresque" is the label often given to sum up

something in English,the tense and ambiguous qualities of the Pinter's plays. It came into usage in 1960, just three years after the first performance of his first play.

**Aspects of Printer's.**

"The essence of Pinter's singular appeal is that you sit down to every play he writes in certain expectation of the unexpected," playwright David Hare said in 2005. "You never know what the hell's coming next."

**15.2 Nature of 'Pinteresque' Style:**

**Given below are a few elements of this 'Pinteresque' style:**

**Conflict between surface appearance and deeper reality as basis for subject matter and dramatic technique.**

Territory is coveted, but there is always more at stake.

Characters do not always operate according to reason. The individual is affected by the past which cannot be defined by certainty. The past is a continuous mystery -it leaves us in the present in a state of insecurity.

He said, "I can take you to some digs, but I wouldn't recommend them exactly."I had nowhere else to go and I said, "I don't care where they are."I went to these digs and found, in short, a very big woman who was the landlady and a little man, the landlord. There was no one else there, apart from this solitary lodger, and the digs were really quite filthy... He later described the boarding house in more colorful terms: "I have filthy insane digs, a great bulging scrag of a woman with breasts rolling at her belly, an obscene household, cats, dogs, filth, tea-strainers, mess..." He ended up sharing a room with the man from the pub. When he asked him what he did for a living, he said: "Oh well, I used to be...I'm a pianist. I used to play in the concert- party here and I gave that up...I used to play in London, but I gave that up."

That image of the filthy boarding house, larger than life landlady and the ex-pianist lodger stayed with Pinter for a number of years. "Then, I thought, what would happen if two people knocked on his door? The knock was the knowledge of the Gestapo. I'll

never forget: it was 1953 or 1954. The war had been over less than ten years. It was very much on my mind."

### *15.4 About the Success of The Birthday Party*

Although "The Caretaker" was a major success, "The Birthday Party," which critics now consider one of his finest, was a flop when it opened in London in 1958. Pinter offered few of the expected elements of a traditional theater piece. He gave scant background about his characters, their motives were unclear, and he allowed no easy answers or consoling resolutions. It was left to the audience to form judgments and moral conclusions. He later referred to "The Birthday Party" as "the most universally detested play that London had known for a very long time."

### 15.5Summary of the Play The Birthday Party

The play was set in a seaside town boarding house with Meg, the proprietress, and her husband, Petey, who is very quiet and sweet. Two strangers, Goldberg and McCann come to town. They arrive in a very snazzy car and decide to stay in this boarding house. They have come to get Stanley who boards there and take him away. We don't know the reason. We don't know if Stanley has either been hiding out there, or has just been living there. In the course of this event there is a birthday party that Meg throws for Stanley. He says it isn't his birthday, but we don't know if that's true or not. In the end McCann and Goldberg fight with Stanley and they take him away.

### 15.6 Characters in the Play

STANLEY: a man in his late thirties LULU - a girl in her twenties GOLDBERG a man in his fifties

MCCANN- a man of thirty

### 15.7 Act-Wise Summary:

#### 15.7.1 Act 1 (Breakfast.)

Petey and Meg, both in their sixties run a boarding house. Petey tells Meg that he was approached by two men last night who want to stay at the house. Meg assumes that they have read about the guest-house on "the list". She calls up to Stanley and addresses

him as if he were a child. She returns to the living room, breathless and arranging her hair. Stanley enters in his pyjamas. Petey goes back to work.

Meg is flirtatious yet elderly with Stanley who appears to be in a bad mood. Meg talks about the two men and Stanley does not believe her - "it's a false alarm". Stanley says that he is going on a world tour as a pianist. Meg asks him not to go and she wants him to stay with her. Stanley then suddenly starts to tease Meg. He becomes threatening and she is frightened.

Lulu, a neighbour, enters and accuses Stanley of getting under Meg's feet all the day. Stanley suddenly asks her to come away with him but he has no idea where he should take her. She declares, "You're a bit of a washout, aren't you?"and leaves. Stanley goes to wash his face. He sees Goldberg and McCann and slips out of the back door.

Goldberg and McCann enter. McCann seems nervous about "the job"they have come to do. Goldberg, his superior, is relaxed. Meg enters and they introduce themselves. Meg tells them that it is Stanley's birthday today and Goldberg decides that they will have a party for him. They go up to their room and Stanley enters. He knows Goldberg. Meg presents him with a birthday gift - -a toy drum. Stanley begins to play the drum, becoming more and more "savage and possessed".

### 15.7.2 Act 2 (That evening)

McCann is seen sitting at the table tearing a sheet of newspaper into strips. Stanley enters and they talk about the party planned for this evening. McCann starts to whistle "The Mountains of Mourne"and Stanley joins in. Stanley recognises McCann but McCann denies it. Stanley then denies it is his birthday. He seems desperate to tell McCann that he hasn't

## LESSON-16

## A STUDY OF THE THEMES AND ISSUES FROM THE PLAY 'THE BIRTHDAY PARTY**

(*Several online sources used for creating this lesson are all acknowledged under the References section)

**16.0 Objectives**

After going through the lesson, you will

• Know about the influences on Pinter's writing

Understand the themes and issues related to the play

**Structure of the Lesson**

16.0 Objectives

16.1 Background Study of the Play "The Birthday Party'

16.2 "The Birthday Party" as an Absurd Play/ Character of Stanley/ The Concept of Fear of Menace

16.3 Language and Dialogue in 'The Birthday Party'

16.4 'The Birthday Party' as an Allegory/Farcical Nature of the Play

16.5 Summing Up

16.6 Comprehension Check Questions

16.7 References

16.8 Additional Sources

16.1 Background Study of the Play 'The Birthday Party'

Harold Pinter, according to Esslin, is one of the defining playwrights of the absurd movement and like other playwrights at this time, such as Samuel Beckett, Pinter wants to communicate the enigmatic and problematic nature of human existence. Esslin states that however realistic the situations which arise appear to be, "Pinter's plays are" "reflections on, and allegories of, the human condition." (Esslin, 1963).

essentially

Writing at a time when man was totally exhausted by the trauma of the two World Wars, Pinter presents the human dilemma; about man trying to come out of the horrors of war and accommodate himself in the domestic space. Pinter emphasises this

instability and uncomfortable nature of the human condition. At the same time, violence and menace formed part of the social landscape of Pinter's teens (Billington, 18). Gangswere a part of the experience of the youth of many parts of Britain's larger cities. The black market, established during the war but existing also in the period of rationing that followed it, encouraged petty and serious crime. Gangs such as those led by the Kray brothers ruled large tracts of London. Due to his Jewish background, Pinter was also deeply embedded in London's East End, Jewish life. There was significant fascist activity in that part of London and open publication of anti-Jewish sentiment. (Billington, 19) Pinter was not immune from this and got into fights as a result:

"I went to a Jewish club, by an old railway arch, and there were quite a lot of

people often waiting with broken' milk bottles in a particular alley we used to walk through." (Thompson, 4-5)

**In one incident in a London bar he punched a man who insulted his Jewish identity.**

Pinter lived at home until he was twenty five so he had ample experience of 'room as territory'and he would have been acutely aware of the wider territories claimed by the fascists and gangland groups of 1950s London. He would have been influenced by other elements around in the 1950s the first news of coercive psychiatry being used to 'cure'people of dissident behaviour in the USSR and a diet of films concerning Hollywood hit men and gangsters, for instance (see Billington,77). The evidence indicates then that Pinter was on actual incidents and observations from his life experience, culled from his normal living patterns and from those gained as an actor. These were fed through his fertile imagination to produce such plays as "The Birthday Party". It is possible to identify specific biographical detail that appears in "The Birthday Party". Pinter went to Hackney Downs Grammar School. Its sports field (Pinter was a promising athlete) was at Lower Edmonton, where Stanley plays his only concert.

The play, in its first London run however, bemused and angered most critics:

**indeed-to result might have**

"Harold Pinter's first play comes in the school of random dottiness deriving from Beckett and Ionesco and before the flourishing continuance of which one quails in slack-jawed dismay. The interest of such pieces as an accepted genre is hardly more than that of some ill-repressed young dauber who feels he can outdo the école de Paris by throwing his paint on with a trowel and a bathmat; and come back to the terms of playmaking- -as good, if not a better been achieved by summoning a get-together of the critics circle offering each member a notebook and pencil and orgiastic bout of 'Consequences', with the winning line midnight matinee at Drury Lane ... The gifted Mr piece claimed the services of anyone is beyond Times (20 May 1958), reprint in Lloyd Evans,

Alan Brien described 'The Birthday Party' as "a Hitchcock movie with the last reel missing"(Billington, 48). In a savage review in The Spectator, he stated:

'The Birthday Party' is like a vintage Hitchcock Thriller which has been, in the immortal tear stained words of Orson Welles, 'edited by a cross-eyed studio janitor with a lawn mower. 'The London run closed after one week. (Brien, A, The Spectator (30 May 1958), reprint in Lloyd Evans, 1985.) Only Harold Hobson of The Sunday Times recognised the talent and significance:

[...] Mr Pinter, on the evidence of this work, possesses the most original, disturbing, and arresting talent in theatrical London [...]. Theatrically speaking, 'The Birthday Party' is absorbing. It is witty. Its characters [...] are fascinating. The plot, which consists, with all kinds of verbal arabesques and echoing explorations of memory and fancy, of the springboard of a trap, is first rate. The whole play has the same atmosphere as a delicious, impalpable, and hair-raising terror which makes The Turn of the Screw one of the best stories in the world.

**A Study of the themes.**

"The Birthday Party" is a major play in the genre of the Theatre of the Absurd. M. H. Abrams records Albert Camus' observation in the 'Myth of Sisyphus (1942) in the "Literature of the Absurd"entry of his A Glossary of Literary Terms:

"In a universe that is suddenly deprived of illusions and of light, man feels a stranger. His is an irremediable exile...."

The very phrase "birthday party" normally evokes the picture of liveliness, vibrant energy, jubilance and above all happy domesticity, but the beginning of Pinter's play hints at the reverse. This reversal of the world order becomes more prominent as the play proceeds and more characters are introduced.

Pinter takes up this dilemma of existence of modern man mutilated after the war. Pinter does not particularly declare that it is a world after the war, but very subtly projects the difference between the past, present and future. Meg and Petey talk about nothing, there is lack of coherence in their utterances.

Pinter's play centres on the life of the main protagonist Stanley Webber, an unemployed pianist, who, for the last year, has been living as a lodger with Meg and Petey Boles in their sea-side boarding house. Stanley is living in idle seclusion away from the outside world. However, the relatively peaceful, domestic atmosphere of the boarding house is disturbed by the intrusion of two unknown characters, Goldberg and McCann. The two men are "agents"of an "organisation" and have come to claim Stanley (Pinter, 1991). The characters in the play prior to the arrival of Goldberg and McCann are described by Malkin as a representation of domestic banality (Malkin, 1992). The dialogue in the opening scene between Petey and Meg is filled with inane questions asked by Meg followed by Petey's monosyllabic answers:.

As the characters attempt to jump from the past to the present the reader is dismayed. The glory is somewhere in the past and the characters ignore their immediate present space to indulge in a nostalgic revisiting of the past; the Past which is gone and shall never return. Meg always fantasizes about her lovely room, a space where she can thrive. But as she comes back to the present, she finds the room turned into a "pigsty"; it becomes an encroached space.

This divorce between man and his life, the actor and his setting, truly constitutes the feeling of Absurdity. (Abrams 1) In 'Godot' there is lack of communication, but in Pinter's play, communication fails. Meg and Petey talk about nothing, there is lack of coherence in their utterances.

When Stanley learns of the two men who will be coming to stay in the boarding house his initial reaction is one of shock and fear of that which is unfamiliar. When speaking to Meg he is quick to try to falsify her claims maintaining that the men will not come (Pinter, 1991). However, Pinter states that in the world we live in, as in the world of his plays, everything is uncertain and we are surrounded by the unknown; it is because of this we are constantly fearful of an invasion from that which is unfamiliar (Esslin, 1980).

The "mysterious and unfamiliar" presents itself in "The Birthday Party" (1958) in the form of the external world, personified by Goldberg and McCann, which intrudes on what seems to be Stanley's safe and secure environment in the Bole's boarding house. Goldberg and McCann embody the theme of menace in that they threaten to disturb, with language as their weapon, what is familiar and constant in Stanley's life. Similar are the cases of Stanley, McCann and Goldberg. They too are victims of a changed world order. While Stanley remembers a grand piano concert he had performed in the past, Goldberg reminiscences experiences of adolescence and his happy married life.

It is not just their speeches, their gestures also carry notes of desperation. Stanley. while remembering the past, becomes confused; a sense of fear seems to grip him. The jumbled absurdity gradually moves towards blurring of the borderline-it begins the acute state of paranoia. Just as in a paranoid suspicion the Gentleman in Thirst suspects that the Sailor has water, so Stanley also begins to feel sinister suspicions in "The Birthday Party". Sometimes when we reconsider Stanley's present state, his sense of absurd fear that arises again when he learns that two more boarders would be accommodated in the house he lives in, his past fear also raises questions in our mind.

Stanley is subjected to a strange and disturbing cross-examination by the men. Pinter adopts stichomythia, a form of dramatic dialogue, during the interrogation scene where both Goldberg and McCann alternate in asking Stanley questions that range from the sublime to the ridiculous, all of which lack intelligible meaning (Silverstein, 1994). The language of nonsense is used abusively as Stanley is tortured with illogical questions. For example:

Pinter shows how people try to get recognised in different ways. Goldberg and McCann, we see, are the two "evil"characters in the play. They are made instruments of

menace by the society, the institution they work for. They are not villains by nature, but men with a purpose, who are to discharge the orders of the institution. In an effort to obey the institution, their real selves are somewhere lost.

When Goldberg thinks about his past days, his mother and wife mingle somewhere and disappear, he could not separate them as two individuals and gets confused and loses his identity. McCann is also an agent of the institution, but he is more crippled and dismayed than Goldberg. He even has no self, requires a Goldberg to discharge the orders and becomes a man of nothingness. If Goldberg molests Lulu, it is his way of getting recognition, the only way of triumph against the repressive social structure, the institution he works for.

Dukore suggests that the fear of menace present in Pinter's "The Birthday Party" (1958) may suggest the absurdity of the human condition, for Stanley, like all of mankind feels insecure and unsafe without certainties in his universe (Dukore, 1982). Stanley, is afraid that what lies beyond the confines of his comfortable environment is "threatening and hostile". Without knowledge man would grow more terrified of the surrounding world and this play highlights just that. Our quest for knowledge has limitations and in a bid to diminish the fear of the strange and unfamiliar, Pinter is seen trying to convey that "there will always be an unknown".

### 16.3 Language and Dialogue in The Birthday Party'

The nature of language and dialogue is also central to the theme of menace in ""The Birthday Party" (1958). The dramatic image of Pinter's play is based on the individual search for security in a world filled with unease, fear, and lack of understanding between people (Esslin, 1963). The uneasiness and anxiety in "The Birthday Party" (1958) arise from the threat of invasion from the outside menacing world. The conversations between Meg and Petey, Stanley and Meg, and Goldberg and McCann illustrate this.



**PETEY. What?**

**MEG. Is that you?**

**16.5 A Study of the themes**.

Language also presents their obscurity with past,present and future. The glory is somewhere in the past and the characters ignore their immediate present space to indulge in a nostalgic revisiting of the past; the Past which is gone and shall never return. Meg always fantasizes about her lovely room, a space where she can thrive. But as she puts her leg in the present, she finds the room turned into a "pigsty"; it becomes an encroached space:

STANLEY (violently). Look, why don't you get this place cleared up! It's a

pigsty.....

MEG (sensual, stroking his arm). Oh, Stan, that's a lovely room. I've had some lovely afternoons in that room. (TBP Act I 19)

Stanley's words about his piano concert also confuse the audience.

**card**

STANLEY, Played the piano? I've played the piano all over the world. All over the country. (Pause.) I once gave a concert.

MEG. A concert?

STANLEY (reflectively). Yes. It was a good one too. They were all there that night. Every single one of them. It was a great success. Yes. A concert.At Lower Edmonton.

**MEG. What did you wear?**

A STANLEY (to himself). I had a unique touch. Absolutely unique. They came up to me. They came up to me and said they were grateful. Champagne we had that night, the lot. (Pause.) My father nearly came down to hear me. Well, I anyway. But I don't think he could make it. No, I-I that was it. (Pause.) Yes. Lower Edmonton. Then after what they did? They carved me up. Carved me up. It was all worked out. My next concert. Somewhere else it

**down there to play. Then, when I got there, the hall place was shuttered up, not even a caretaker. They'd (Takes off his glasses and wipes them on his pyjama (23)**

dropped him lost the address, that, you know all arranged, it was. In winter. I went was locked, the locked it up. jacket.).

The men's interrogation of Stanley continues throughout the party itself which finally dissolves into a series of violent acts. Pinter's dialogue is made up of incorrect syntax, tedious repetitions and also contradictions. Goldberg and McCann's questions and statements are a combination of distorted clichés and idioms (Prentice, 2000). Dukore suggests that the linguistic absurdity present in "The Birthday Party" (1958) may suggest the absurdity of the human condition (Dukore, 1982). Through dialogue Pinter displays the inadequacy of the words we use in our everyday speech and how language itself has become an insufficient and defective tool for communication (Malkin, 1992).

Language in Pinter's play seems to have lost all importance and semantic power and instead becomes a weapon of destruction. The play seeks to highlight the limitations of our everyday speech in order for us to understand the often nonsensical nature of our means of communication. Limitations of language become apparent and language becomes insufficient when one is in search for truths surrounding the human condition and that, it seems, is what this play is trying to convey. The "menacing nature of what is unknown" and "man's fear of the uncertainty" in the play also aim to reflect on the nature of man's situation in the world.

There will always be evidence of an unknown as our knowledge is limited and there will forever be something which is uncertain. The farcical nature of man's quest for knowledge, as shown in the play, is that man will never achieve a full understanding of all that is around him. It is apparent also that 'The Birthday Party' (1958) as an allegory of conformity seeks to portray the farcical and pointless nature of man's adherence to social norms, but also to perhaps suggest that conformity is near impossible to avoid. Pinter, as Esslin argues, in his play "The Birthday Party" (1958) successfully portrays the volatility and bleakness which

surrounds the human condition.

### 16.4 'The Birthday Party' as an Allegory / Farcical Nature of the Play

Esslin argues that Pinter's 'The Birthday Party' (1958) may also be interpreted as an allegory surrounding the nature of conformity. By using language as a weapon, Stanley, the pianist, the solitary and individual artist, is forced to confine to the ways of Goldberg and McCann (Esslin, 1980). The morning following 'The Birthday Party' (1958), during which Stanley was subjected to further taunts from McCann, left unable to speak and reduced to a manic state of laughter, the "agents"bombard him with an extensive list of his faults and specify the benefits of submitting to their influence:

Goldberg and McCann are insistent that they bring Stanley to see Monty however Petey is not entirely convinced. He suggests that as Stanley is a guest in his boarding house he should be the one to look after him. However, the "agents"state that Monty is the finest there is and they subsequently offer to take Mr. Boles also. The final line that Petey speaks to Stanley, Pinter has described as being one of the most important lines he has ever written (Merritt, 1995):

PETEY Stan, don't let them tell you what to do!

Perhaps, Pinter is 'commenting on the farcical nature of society and its blind adherence to conform to social norms. Stanley has lost every ounce of his individuality; he is even dressed like Goldberg and McCann wearing a dark, well cut suit and white shirt (Pinter, 1991). Perhaps Stanley's glasses, now broken in his hands having been damaged at the party by McCann, are symbolic of this blindness. Even Goldberg, in the final moments of the play before taking Stanley away, admits to feeling uneasy. He reflects on his despair and criticises the way he himself was made into the person that he is now by the strict established disciplines of society and the world and also questions his own state of being:

GOLDBERG What do you think, I'm a self-made man? No! I sat where I was told to sit. I kept my eye on the ball.

Goldberg and McCann's obedience to authority reflect that of Stanley's initial rejection of, and rebellion, against it. Both parties automatically attack what does not conform to their sense of self (Prentice, 2000). However, in Act Three of the play we witness a re-birth of Stanley, a man no longer autonomous who has been re-created in the image of the all- powerful Other (Silverstein, 1994). Pinter here is perhaps alluding

to the fallibility of man's identity, how each of us lacks the ability to achieve a genuine and unalterable self as we are all products of the environment in which we immerse ourselves. Stanley's once sheltered abode became occupied by Goldberg and McCann and if one views the change in Stanley on an allegorical level it is perhaps commenting on the farcical nature of conformity in society. Stanley's transformation could be a reflection on society itself and how people strive to fit in to social norms, whether it is their true identity or a portrayal of a false façade.

## UNIT-4

## 7. SAMUEL BECKETT: WAITING FOR GODOT

Samuel Beckett, poet, novelist, dramalist and critic was born near Dublin on April,30, 1906. He belongs to a middle class Protestant family. He took his B.A. from

Trinity College, Dulbin in 1927. He specialised in French and Italian languages. He taught at Belfast for a short time and received fellowship to study French in Paris. He left for Parris in 1928 become a friend of James Joyce who was living in Paris then. Joyce exerterd a profound influence on Beckett. Under the supervision of Jouyce Beckett helped translate into French a fragment of Finnegans Wake. The relationship be- tween Joyce and Beckett was often an uneasy one, but it lasted until Joyce's death in 1941.

In 1930 Beckett published his poem Whoroscope. In the same year he returned to Trinity College where he took an M.A. degree and taught French until 1932 when he resigned to devote his time entirely to writing. He took permanent residence in Paris and his first collection of short stories More Pricks than Kicks and his first novel Murphy written in English, were published in London in 1934 and 38 respectively. Beckett was in Ireland when World War II broke out. He returned at once to Paris and worked in French Resistence. Sought by Nazis he was compelled to run away from Paris to the south of France. There he wrote his second novel Watt which was not published until 1953. After the Second World War he wrote almost exclusively in French. In a burst of creativity he translated Murphy into English and produced a novelistic trilogy: Molloy 1951, Mallone Dies 1951 and Unnameable written first in French and later translated into English 1953. His first play was Eleutheria written in 1946 and 48 but was never published or produced.

His Waiting for Godot was written in 1953. In the same year he published a group of tales entitled Stories and Texts for Nothing: Waiting for Godot was an international success and it was followed by the production of number of dramatic works for the stage, radio and television. Beckett was recognised as the most important creative influence on the Theater of the Absurd. He passed away in 1990. In 1969 he was awared the Nobel prize for literature.

Beckett summed up his reaction to critical exegeses inspired by his plays thus: 'my work is a matter of fundamental sounds made as fully as possible, and I accept responsibility for nothing-- else. If people want to have headaches among the overtones let them. This statement brings to mind Beckett's first published poem Whoroscope in which Descartes is presented as soliloquizing in the musical accents of Dublin as he searches for his self identity.

Some critics have pointed out that the fundamental sounds in the plays of Beckett are actually the devices of a poet working in the French symbolist tradition which attempted to close the gap between language and music by employing imagery, rhythm, suggestion, pauses, and eventually silence itself. Beckett tries to make a direct appeal to our senses and emotions. The result is that his message is often felt, without being completly understood.

Beckett was nearly 50 when his Waiting for Godot was poduced in Paris. The production of the play immediately established him as one of the most controversial dramatists of his time. It also brought to popular attention the so called Theatre of the Absured. The French dramatist Jean Anouilh held Beckett's work as significant and important as the production of Pirandello. The Spanish dramatist Alfanso Sastre called Godot the first real tragic comedy" that mysterious situation before which we laugh although horrified" As one of the charac ters in Beckett's Endgame points out, "nothing is funnier than unhappiness".

2.

This type of black humour occurs often in the works of Beckett. This provides an escape 1omentarily from the hopeless situation of life presented in the plays. At the same time it mphasies the suffering of his characters. Beckett developped a bold, bare dramatic form which xpression to the fundamental situation of modern man's existance. It gives a full expession to the ndefined sense of guilt, the the feeling of hopelessness and the anguish resulting from a loss of lentity and purpose. Waiting for Godot is a tragicomedy in two acts. The scene of action is a road ide, an unspecified place. The setting is bare just with a bare treee. The time is dusk. At dusk two ramps Vladimir amd Estragon, who call each other Gogo and Didi meet near a bare tree on a ountry. road to wait for the promised arrival of the elusive Godot. The tramps try to pass the time 1 a varity of ways. They try to recall their past and fail to continue that way. They began to quote om the Bible and very soon fail to continue that too. Then they try to discuss about the nearby ee and find it difficult to continue that. Then they start speculating about Godot but slip.into elling jokes, recounting all their dreams, begin eating and start urinating.

Before the actual nightfall, Pozzo, a capricious Master and Lucky, his brutalized servant appear r a brief time. Their uneasy relationship as master and slave provids a

sharp contrast to the iendly equality of the two tramps. In the course of action, in which nothing is done and nothing appens, the tramps received a message from Godot that he will not be coming that day but will arely come the next day. The first act ends and the second act begins. The second act seems to be a ind of reversing of the first act. In Act 2 we notice that the treee has grown four or five leaves. But e state of Gogo and Didi appars to have deteriorated.

They find that now their memories are less ependable and discover that they find less and to say, to think and to discuss. They become more id more painfully conscious of their activities as a meaningless pastime or play. Pozzo and Lucky appear for a breif time. Now Pozzo is blind and Lucky is dumb. Once again Gogot sends another essage that he cannot come that day. In a hopeless mood of despair the tramps makes an successful attempt to hang themselves. Then, as they do not at the end of the first act, the amps declare to their intention to live. But they do not move and continue to wait for Godot.

Beckett's next important play Endgame was written and produced in 1957. It is a long one act ama presenting two couples. Nagg and Nell, an old husband and his wife and their son Hanm id his companion Clov. The relationship between Hamm and Clov is ambiguous. Clov may be am's slave, friend,and perhaps, son. Nagg and Nell cannot move. They remain fixed in their spective ashcans through out. Hamm cannot stand. Clov cannot sit. Clov pushes about Hamm in wheelchair. The play opens when Clov was drawing in a ritualistic manner the curtains of two nall high windows. Then he slowly removes dust sheets from the ashcans and from the wheel air of Hamm. After that Clov and Hamm enter into a conversation about a number of issues: itude, their failing health, fading love, and unshakable increased suffering.

Nagg frequently requests for biscuits. It is promptly answered by Nell's appearance in her hcan. In course of time husband and wife begin to chat about their deteriorating senses and uckle over the unforgettable accident that caused them their legs. Nagg tells Nell a story reflect- g on the sorry state of life in the world of God. Hamm and Clov kill their time indulging in a lious round of uninspired actions like attempting a tour of the room, starting out through the ndow, and killing an insect. Hamm bribes Nagg with a promise of plums and compels him to listen to his story about a man seeking a shelter for his son after a total holocaust of the world Hamm just receives the curses of his

father when he confesses the truth that he has no plums. Nel dies and Clov conducts Hamm on another slow tour of the room. Clov threatens to leave and makes elaborate preparations for his departure. The curtain falls when Clov is still standing motionless at the door, and Hamm, remaining indifferent and immobile covering his face with a bloody handker chief.

In Krapps Lost Tape (1958) the dramatic situation is even further reduced. In this play the dialogue is between an aged de-humanised man and a tape recorder which plays back his impres sions he recorded 30 years before. As the character laughs or becomes angry listening to the tape we realise that his past was as hopeless and meaningless as his present. The only continuity between his past and present is that his physical appetites have remained. But all his facultie: have degenerated and his intellect can respond with joy to the sound of the word 'pool'.

Beckett's next play Happy Days was produced in 1961. In Act I Winnnie is burned to the wais in the earth in the hea of a scorching son. Winnie was summoned to her daily activities through a calling bell. She begins her activities with a prayer. She has devised a series of routine activitie: such as making an inventory of her possessions recalling her past, doing her toilette, trying t remember snatches of poetry, making conversation with the unresponsive Willie, who is also burier in a hole within the range of her vision. All these activities are developed by her as a defenc against the infinitude of time. Willie who is also buried in a hole within the range of her vision.

Al these activities are developd by her as a defence against the infinitude of time. Willie feels con vinced that it has been a happy day when she can make a successful effort of memory or an occas sional word from Willie. The climax of this trap day comes when the appearance of an an stimulates Willie to a pun on formication making the couple laugh. In the second Act Willie i embedded up to her neck and all her important physical routine activities are now made impos sible. Her memory fails. She indulges in fabricating stories and prattles in to Willie who is nov absent. As Winnie now cannot any longer turn her head to see him she is unaware that he ha gone. But soon Willie reappears traced in morning clothes and crawling towards her. Winni joyfully begins to hum the merry window Waltz. But it is not made clear whether Willis means t gives herakiss or his groping for the revolver lying on the ground nearby. Several of Beckett's shor plays were produced, or broadcast or televised. However, thematically and dramatically they ad nothing new to the works discussed

above already. Beckett's play entitled Breath was performed i 1970. It took 30 seconds during which no words were spoken and no actors were present. This is th peak of a play composed of silence.

## SYNGE: RIDERS TO THE SEA

Edmund John Millington Synge, the Irish dramatist was born on April, 16, 1871, in Newton Billas, Rathfornham, now a suburb of Dublin, Ireland. He belongs to an Anglo-Irish Protestant family which had been in Ireland for several centuries. His father was John Hatch Synge, a Barris- ter. He belonged to land owning aristocracy. His mother was Cathleen Trail, the daughter of a rector. However Synge does not come from the hard riding county gentle man class celebrated by Yeats. He does not belong to the real aristocracy but to an ascendant middle class including individuals of very different social standing. They were all united by the common minority interests rather than by any class uniformity.

The main political issues which dominated public life at a time when Synge was growing up were Home Rule and Land Reform. These issues provided joint threat to the Anglo-Irish Protestant people and they drew them together. There is, it is of interest for us, to find a striking similarity between the Indian and the Irish political and cultural movements.

It was no accident that two leading poets on either side found an identity of purpose and spirit in the movements: W.B. Yeats and Rabindranath Tagore. An off shoot of this common interest was the stay of late James and Margaret Cousins, both colleagues of Yeats, in the Irish movement for a good part of their lives at the headquarters of the Theosophical Society, Adyar. Colonial Britain solved: the political problems of both India and Ireland by their cruel method of partition. The Indo-Pakistan troubles and Anglo- Irish problems are standing monuments of the British Imperial diplomacy of division. Synge's father died when he was a child of one. He was raised by his mother in an environment permeated by an obsessive concern with religion and the penalties of sin. He attended a number of private schools. His education was periodically interrupted by his recurrent ill-health. Therefore he was mostly educated privately till he entered Trinity College, Dublin.

At Trinity College he renounced his religious beliefs and became deeply interested in ancient Irish culture and language and pursued his love of music and study of the violin. However, he distinguished himself in the languages, particularly the Irish and the Hebrew. Otherwise Synge was an indifferent student. After taking his degree he set out for Germany to learn violin. For three years he attended various schools in German cities, travelled in Italy and France, made an abortive attempt at play writing and began to study French authors. He settled in Paris in 1896 and matriculated at Sorbonne.

He might have continued this indefinite and semi literary life if he had not met W.B. Yeats in Paris on December 21, 1896. By then he had read widely in European literature and developed an interest in culture and archaelogy of Brittany which had links with Wales and Ireland. His meeting with Yeats changed the entire course of his life. Yeats advised him correctly. Yeat's advice to Synge is one of the best published facts of modern literary history.

Yeats advised him give up Paris. "You will never create any thing by reading Racine and Arthur Symons will always be a better critic of French literature, go to the Aran Islands, live there as if you were one of the people themselves; express a life that has never found expression". No one is likely to quarrel with the statement from the Greene and Stephens Biography: 'Synge's visit to the Aran Islands in 1898 must be one of the most remarkable examples on record of how a sudden immersion in a new environment converted a man of ostensibly mediocre talent, a complete failure, infact, into a writer of genius. Several great English dramatists were of Irish origin. Mention may be made of Sheridan, oldsmith, Shaw, Wilde and Beckett.

But none of these dramatists shared any national spirit with tother group of Irish Play-wrights like Yeats, Synge, and Sean O' Casey who lived in Ireland. They inspired by the spirit of Irish Nationalism and fired by a passion for a revival of Irish language

nd culture and they longed for freedom from English political, religious and cultural domination. At this point it is necessary to know something about Irish culture and language. The original ulture and language of the Irish was Gaelic. Ireland was Christianised in the fifth century A.D. The eriod between the 7th and 12th centuries may be called the Golden Age of Gaelic civilization. Under the British occupation by the beginning of the 19th century Gaelic language ceased to be the nguage of the educated. It dwindled into a dialect spoken by the peasantry and fisherfolk, but articularly all those who lived in the Western and Southern coasts on Ireland in small

left-to- hemselves Islands. This cleavage took on a religious colour too. The original Irish nationalists were mostly Catholic. The colonial rulers were mainly Anglo-Irish Protestants.

W.B. Yeats, Maude Gonne and a number of others founded the Irish Leage around 1896. Their bject was to fight for Irish independence in association with Fay Brothers, a pair of theatre profes- onals. The National Theatre Society was founded in 1901 with Yeats as President. Soon with the nancial support of Miss Horniman a small hall in the lower Abbey street in Dublin was purhased nd it was converted into a theatre. Thus the Abbey Theatre Company was formed with Yeats, Lady Gregory and later Synge as Directors. By 1904. Synge was actively engaged in theatre work. Taking he advice of Yeats, Synge spent the Spring of 1898 and later the summer months of the next four ears among common Irish folk. These trips had great effect on the plays of Synge. The immediate result of his experience was an imaginative journalistic action entitled "The Aren Islands" published 1907. In 1901 Synge Composed a three act play which was rejected by Yeats and Lady Gregory. Although they rejected it they earnestly encouraged Synge to continue the dramatic form.

Synge wrote In the Shadow of the Glen which was produced in 1903. It brought him instant otoriety. His portrait of Irish peasants was loudly denounced by militant Irish patriots as libelous. Riders to the Sea was produced in 1904. It was more successful than Glen. But the applause was elatively mild for a work which in course of time came to the regarded as the greatest short play in he English language. Synge's next play The Tinker's Wedding was considered inflammatony even Yeats and therefore it was no produced during the author's life time.

By 1904 Synge was actively engaged in theatre work. His The Well of saints was produced in 905. By late 1905, the Abbey Theatre lost a number of its more nationalistic members. So much so ynge was forced to take an active role in the management of the company. Despite his managerial ommitments Synge continued to write and his The Playboy of the Western World produced in 1907 provoked fierce opposition in Dublin with inner riots attending some of the performances. When the presented in the United States active violence broke out. These instances of the breaking ut of violence are an indication of the deep involvement of the Irish people in the themes of the lays of Synge. Nevertheless, from the very beginning the playboy was

recognised as an important play was at this stage Synge's health began to decline. Though he was forced to remain a semi-convales cent to the end of his life in 1909 he found time and strength to draft but not to complete Deirdre o !he Sorrows.

Despite the fact that Synge wrote only six plays out of which two are of one act each, it has been universally accepted that he is one of the greatest dramatists, if not the greatest, of the Irish i Iramatic revival as well as modern drama. His major contribution to Irish tradition is his realistic assessment of Irish life and character as opposed to the tradition of the herioc myth of Ireland. Yet he realism of Synge is a complex and curious one, for it is related to the mysticism and the" supernatural. The hearty, earthy souls of western Island whom he portrays are part of nature. In act, nature becomes an important character among them and a significant entity in their lives. They ire either soothed by it or and undone by it. But they are never free from its influence. Nature thus becomes a virtual presence in the plays of Synge. It becomes a prominent force in human destiny. Synge neither sentimentalises it nor romanticistlist it.

The characters of Synge are mostly Irish peasants. They are presented with clarity and force nd they are presented as characters in whom weakness and strength, naivete and shrewedness are well balanced. As individuals they are shown as they are not as what they might be or should be. 'herefore his characters provoked virulent attacks from Irish patriots who idealised the Irish people.

The dramatic structure of the plays of Synge develops spontaneously and effortlessly from the haracters. The dramatic mechanics are made so natural that they do not appear prominent at all. ynge's gift for language is outstanding. It is unequalled in modern drama. His is a fluid poetic prose ch in colourful imagery drawn from the speech of the Irish people of the Aran Islands uncorrupted y modern civilization. In fact it is a special form of dramatic language forged from the union of betry and the particular intonation of Irish people the idiom and imagery of every day life.

The Shadows of the Glen (1903), his one act comedy, was based on a folk tale Synge heard in the ran Islands. In a remote and simple country cottage Nova Burke chats with the poetic drama efore her husband's shrowded body of her prosaic life. Her husband is pretending to be dead. She akes plain to the Tramp that she plans to go off with him. Suddenly a sneeze is heard from the roud. The enraged husband chases her out of the house perhaps driving her to join the Tramp so at her longing for poetry,

romance and infatuation may be fulfilled. Riders to the Sea (1904) is one the most celebrated one act plays in the dramatic literature of the world. No other dramatist in e history of the world drama has created such an evoking powerful and creeping tragedy in such a ort space.

The scene of action is and Island off the west coast of Ireland. It is a lonely cottage in ich Maurya bent with age sorrow and suffering has seen her husband's father, her husband and e of her six sons swallowed by the sea. Her last son Bartley, impetuous and headstrong defies her peal and embarks over rouch seas to go to the main land. The old lady receives the news she nost expected. Her son is thrown off his pony into the raging surf and he also meets his death by ter. Nine days before Bartley's death his brother was drowned. The old Lady Maurya grieves over e dead body of Bartley and the clothes of her other son who was drowned. Her words "There is't ything more the sea can do to me" acquire tragic depth and stoic dignity.

The Well of the Saints (1905) is the first attempt of Synge to write a full three-act drama. The play presents the blind beggar couple Martin Doul and his wife Mary who are benevolently deceived by the inhabitance of the town into believing that they are very beautiful. Their sight is temporarily restored by the waters of a miraculous well administered by a great Saint. The happy couple are separated by the harsh reality and the realisation of the deceit of the people of the town. Their cure is only temporary. Darkness once again descends. Mary and Martin join together again and now they refuse the offer of the Saint to restore their sight permanently. They reject the spiritual blindness of conventional society in favour of their blissful illusion caused by physical blindness. The Tinker's Wedding was written in 1903 but was produced only after his death in 1909.

Synge's comic masterpiece is The Playboy of the Western World. It is an imaginative treatment of a young man who becomes a hero by being forced to live up to the heroic lies he has told about himself. Although originally resented by the Irish people and Irish Americans this play is widely e acclaimed as one of the great modern comedies. The hero Mahon a shy farmer boasts that he has 1 recently murdered his father with one blow of his spade while they were digging out Potatoes. To his e astonishment he is held as the hero of the town where he is a stranger. Believing

himself dashing he d becomes the object of amorous adulation of both the razor-tongued but desirable Mike and the mand of hungry widow Quin.

Inspired by his newly realised self confidence Mahon carries the day at the iccal sporting events. When he is about to claim Mike as his bride his enraged old father appears, bloody and unsteady, abut very much alive. This transforms the much admired playboy into a butt of jokes and jeering and eturns the disillusioned Mike against him. Having had a taste of the new kind of existence, Mahon edowns his father with another blow. But what appeared from a distance heroic appears to the town's folk as outrageous behavious when performed in their presence.

When the town's people were about to hang Mahon the industructible old father crawls back again still alive. Mahon returns with his father to the farm making Mike lament: "Oh my grief I've lost him surely! I've lost the only playboy of the western world" Deirdre of the Sorrows (1910). Synge's last play is a tragedy based on the Irish legend, of Deirdre. Deirdre is a beautiful young woman living in the wilderness with her old nurse. The king of Ulster claims her as his bride. A storm brings heroic Naise to her cottage and they fall in love with each othe.

They are married and fly away from the rath of the king. After seven happy years the king sends a messenger offering them re-entry. Realising that they cannot prolong their happiness in exile indefinitely, the couple agree to go back. After return, Naise's brothers are killed and Naise himself is killed when he rushes to their defence. The king tries to pursuade Deirdre to become his queen. Deirdre commits suicide leaving the king alone with the wreck of his hopes.

## A BRIEF OUTLINE OF THE HISTORY OF ENGLISH NOVEL

The "novel" represents a great variety of writing that has in common only the attribute of being extended work of fiction in prose. It is different from the short story and the novelette as its magnitude permits a greater variety of characters., complication of plot, wider development of milieus, more sustained exploration of character and motives. As a long narrative in prose, it is also different from the long narratives in the poetry of Chaucer, Spenser and Milton, as it has increasingly occupied a more important place. Within these limits, the novel includes such diverse works as

Richardson's Pamela, Sterne's Tristram Shandy, Dickens' Pickwick Papers, Joyce's Ulysses and Kafka's The Trial.

In the European languages, "roman" means novel, derived from the medieval term, romance. The English word "novel" is derived from the Italian term, novella, (which. literally means "a little thing"), with a short tale in prose. Boccaccio's Decameron is the best example for this. However, long narrative romances in prose were written by great writers as second and third centuries A.D, dealing with separated lovers, who after perilous adventures and sensational escapes, are happily reunited at the end. Aethiopica by Heliodorus and the pastural narrative, Dalphins and Chole by Longinus are the best examples, for this. During the Elizabethan times, Thomas Lodge's Rosalynde and Sir Philip Sidney's Arcadia belong to this category of pastoral romances of the Greeks. In the XVI century, the picaresque narrative emerged in Spain, as Gilblas by Le Sage was the most popular romance," Picaro" is Spanish name for “rogue”, dealing with many adventures of this rogue hero.

After all these initial and not fully undefined attempts at the emergence of the modern novel form, Defoe's narratives Flanders, Moll Robinson Crusoe is the beginning of the novel form in English literature. Moll Flanders and Robinson Crusoe are a sequence of episodes held together. The realistic novel is as they happen to one person. Richardson's Pamela or Virtue Rewarded (1740) is the first English "novel of character" or "psychological novel" This is the story of a sentimental but shrewd young woman, who by prudently safeguarding her chastity, succeeds in becoming the wife of a wild young gentleman, instead of his servant girl. Pamela, like its successor Clarissa is an epistlory novel. The narrative is conveyed entirely by an exchange of letters. characterized as the fictional attempt to give effect to realism. This realistic mode rooted in the XVIII century writers as Defoe, and Fielding achieved a high development in the master-novelists of XIX century, including Jane Austen, George Eliot, Anthony Trollope, and William Dean Howells in England and America; Stendnal, Balzac and Flaubert in France and Turgenev and Tolstoy in Russia. In contrast, the prose romance has the precursors of the chivalric romance of the Middle Ages and the Gothic novel of the later XVII century. As the characters are sharply delienated as heroes or villains, the plot is about an adventure and quest 'motif' for an ideal or the pursuit of an enemy. ex:- Walter Scott's Rob Roy and Alexander Dumas' The Three Musketeers, Emily Bronte's Wuthering Heights and in America, the prose romances of James Fennimore Cooper.

In XVIII century, along with the realistic fiction of Richardson, we haye the fiction of Defoe and Fielding, Joseph Andrews appeared in 1742, two years after Richardson's Pamela. He was a man of prose, in mind as well as in medium, to make him the master of the all of the novel, for in his hands, the novel became an excellent depiction of the bourgeois sensibility of the XVII century. His training as a dramatist served him, clarifying situation, and giving significance to every incident. He is endowed with vitality, common sense, and a command of facts and the faculty for marshalling them.

He brought the whole world as we see it. Within the scope of this now rapidly maturing literary form. Smollett's first novel Roderick Random, without loving kindness and genial satire. This is the first novel about the sea and life and aboard ship. Lawrence Sterne revolted against the massive sense of proportion imposed by his contemporary Fielding. Tristram Shandy is part of an experiment which the author is carrying out with the grandfather clock and the connubial habits of the elder Mr.Shandy. Steme's experiments with words and time, equivalent in another art with the adventures of Monet and Renoir in the use of paint and light, carried the medium of COT.

English prose still further towards its present day vastness of scope. His vocabulary was enormous and he used it consciously to fill the vacuum. He was the first novelist to be aware of duration as a positive factor. In his hands, it became a critic of human nature and fundamentally a pessimistic one. The general effect of Sterne's Tristram Shandy and A Sentimental Journey is a depressing one. Sterne was a master of the art of being personal, Fanny Burney (1752-1840) is the first woman novelist in English literature.

**The Victorian Novel**

**1.George Meredith**

George Meredith is the last link connecting the present generation with mid-Victorian literature. Born of Portsmouth in February, 1828, he was of Welsh and Irish descent and proud of his double. Celtic origin. His first poem was published in Chambers's Edinburgh Journal in 1851. His novel The Ordeal of Richard Feverel met with cold reception. His next work Evan Harrington in 1861 was ignored. He may be understood as the satiric observer, the poetic observer of human nature, with a keener

intellectual vision. Less universal in his appeal as a humorist, he has no rival as a satirist, as his satire is keen, subtle, incisive. He is very good at painting the contemporary English manners, as he combines convention with primal instinct. He has given a faithful picture of the Englishmam, with his merits and defects. As a satirist he is successful at de-sentimentalising men and women.

He drew women, frankly and sincerely from the life. His strength as a poet lies in his luxuriant imagination. For him, Earth is a kind, though Spartan mother, who attracts as well repels us as she is nothing but the silence of grim rebuffs for our desparate hopes and high aspirations: Life for him is a hard business, but as with Browning, its very hardness yields to a joy of the brave heart. He insists on the Greek quality of temperance. Life, for him depends on self-satisfaction but on service to others, and the most tragic thing is not death, but "an unteachable spirit" Mereditn believes in combining cheerfulness with courage. Fate is cruelt though one has to face it. He is a simulating novelist, an arresting poet, and most importantly, aspiritual, a great influence in English life and letters.

Thomas Hardy: (1840-1928):

Thomas Hardy is a poet, as well as a novelist. His novels include Under the Greenwood Tree, Far from the Madding Crowd. The Return of the Native. Tess of D'Urbervilles, Mayor of Casterbridge and Jude the Obscure. His great distinction is in his putting on one side the romantic point of view and adopting a thoughtful and scientific observant method of creating the life of the country-side. He is an interpreter of Nature, the descriptive artist; as an interpreter of character - the analytical artist; as an interpreter of life-the philosophic artist. His love of the Earth is intensely personal and local. As a story teller, he has rich inventive power with a sense of symmetrical development. He never loses sight of the harmonious, while his temperament has conditioned his pessimistic outlook on life. In his outlook on life there are two qualities, essentially insistent-his sense of law and sense of pity. He believes that a spiritual logic governs men's lives and the Greek's called it Nemesis. While George Eliot considers this logic of life from the moral point of view, as retribution, Hardy is affected by the injustice of its workings. His sense of pity is more acute than that of any modern writer.

George Eliot:

Mary Ann Evans (George Eliot) was born as South Farm in 1819. At first, she accepted with docility her father's views. After her father's death, she settled in London

and become assistant editor of the Westminister Review. It is the essential womanliness in her that gives vitality to her best work. Her delicate intuition, taste and woman's power of sympathy give greatness to Adam Bede. The Mill on the Floss and Silas Marner. She was the first novelist to lay her stress wholly upon character rather upon incident to make her stories spiritual rather than physical dramas She is a philosopher in her story-telling. She acts as chorus to her characters. In her characterization, there is both subtlety, and variety. She has a wide range of observation, generous sympathies and power of detachment, trained by scientific study helped to give breath and variety to her cumvas. Intellectually, she was in touch with the most extreme of the rationalist critics, but she never outgrew her puritanism. It was too deeply ingrained in her character.

**Charles Dickens:**

Charles Dickens(1812-1870-) was born at Landport in Hampshire. His important works are Hard Times, A Tale of Two Cities, Great Expectations, besides many other works. He is a good story teller of the London life. He could moralise while he made readers laugh. His strength and weakness lie in his hypersensitive imagination. His character or scene is amazingly like and amazingly unlike anything in our own experience. His humour is mingled with pathos, in particular in the portrayal of the children. His humanity is best drawn by his character-drawing. Though his characters may be called as caricatured types, they have enough uniqueness and living quality. He wrote without much political or religious interest.

W.M. Thackeray :

William Makepeace Thackeray came of a good old Yorkshire family, and was born in Calcutta in July, 1811. He published The New Comes, Henry Esmond. The Adventures of Philip and his celebrated work, Vanity Fair. He satirised social conventions. He satirised pretence and snobbery. He showed greater refinement of characterization and selection of events. He employs realism in his fiction. He was at his best as a great artist, a great stylist and an admirable painter of manners.

Other Victorian novelists are Anthony Trollope and Disraeli, Samuel Butler, Emily Bronte and Charolette Bronte and Mrs. Gaskell:

**Modern Novel :**

Conrad, D.H. Lawrence, E.M Forster, Graham Greene, Dorothy Richardson, Virginia Woolf, James Joyce, William Golding and Evelyn Waugh are some of the celebrated novelists in England in XX century. The modern novelists revolted against

the Victorian values of materialism and progress. They questioned the Victorian prudery and morality. Conrad, Lawrence and Joyce found new areas of faith in art itself or in a religion of their own making. They discovered a new of literary experimentation. They combined tradition with experimentation in their art. The modem novelists are interested in depicting the inner reality, unlike the eighteenth century novelists, who depicted the external objective reality. The modern novelists were uninhibited in the treatment of the theme of sex.

D.H. Lawrence felt that sexual harmony was an essential condition for the attainment of happiness in life. The modern novelists have given up the traditional story telling, by replacing it with the stream-of-consciousness technique. French symbolist also influenced the modern English novel. The great French novelists like Mallarme, Verlaine, Baudelaire and Rimbaud revolted against objective realism and insisted on a world of ideal beauty. Conrad's silver mine in Conrad's Nostromo and Lawrence's flowers and Marabar caves in Forster's A Passage to India are the symbols drawn from the French symbolist movement. Modern novelists like Joyce employ myth in their fiction by employing Jung's theory of the unconscious. Modern novel also shows a variety of themes. H.GWells and Aldous Huxley have written science fiction. Galsworthy's Forsyte Saga and Arnold Bennett's Clayhanger are triologies of domestic life. George Orwell's 1984, and Animal Farm are political allegories. G.H Chesterton, Edgar Wallace and Dorothy Lsayers and Agatha Christie have written good detective novels.

## SOME CRITICAL TERMS

In this lesson, let us know the salient features of novel as an art form. The novel has these following features. 1. Plot 2 Characterization 3. Dialogue 4. Setting 5. Point of view 6. Language.

**Plot:**

Plot and character are organically united, as one can not exist without the other. For Hudson, Plot is made up of the incidents of life. A Plot is a sequence of events, according to E.M Forster. It consists of passions, emotions of human life. There are different types of plots:; the novels of loose plot; the novels of organic plot. In the novels of loose plot, the story consists of many detached incidents or episodes, without any harmony or logical connection. In these novels, hero provides the unity of action: he serves on the nucleus of action. Robinson Crusoe, Pickwick Papers, Vanity Fair and Nicholas Nickleby are examples of this type of novel. In the novels of organic plots,

separate incidents or episodes are harmonioushly put together as integral components of a definite pattern. Tom Jones, Bleak House and The Woman in White have organic plots. The plot need not be symmetrical in exposition, crisis and denouement. It may begin with a crisis, and the rest of the book may be devoted to depicting how the crisis arose.

**Characters:**

The characters in a novel should be real and lifelike. They are of two types: the flat and T round. Flat characters or 'types' are without any progress or change. Ex: Dickens's character. In contrast a round character shows greater complexity and progress and change in its personality.

**Dialogues :**

**Joly**

Dialogues have two purposes: it exhibits characters, their views, passions, motives and their reactions to various situations in the novel; second they provide a commentary and analysis of the important action in the novel.

**Setting:**

This describes the time and place of the humari action of the story. It describes the physical and spiritual background of the action in the novel. For example, Hardy locates all his novels against the Wessex background. Arnold Bennett described the life in the midland region known as the Potteries. Hugh Walpole depicted the Lake District in the North West in his novels.

**Point of View:**

In a novel, the most important question is, from whose point of view is the story told. It may be told by the writer, that is known as the omniscient narrator. The story may be told by a particular character, from its own point of view, known on the first person, narrator.

**Writer's attitude to life:**

A writer may heve a particular attitude to life. A novel may express his philosophy of life. Thus, these six features constitute the features of the novel. Now let us know different forms of novel. They are

V1) Novel of Action

2) Novel of Character

3) Picaresque Novel

4) Dramatic Novel

5) Historical Novel

6) Regional Novel.

The Novel of Action :

The novel of action consists of vigorous action. Characters play a subsidiary role.

Ex: Scott's novel, Ivanhoe, and Stevenson's Treasure Island.

**The Novel of Character:**

This is one of the most popular forms of the novel. Here the characters exist independently of the plot. Events which bring out various qualities and attributes of character or characters are made to happen. As in Thackeray's Vanity Fair, the novelist only delienates the characters. The plot here is loose and easy, as the plot only elucidates the characters.

**The Picaresque Novel :**

Here the rogue is the hero, who is unchanged throughout the novel. It was invented in Spain in XVI century. It deals mainly with a number of situations and with a variety of characters who are satirically and humourously and critically delienated. The Unfortunate Traveller is the first picaresque novel in English language. Smollett's Roderick Random, Defoe's Captain Singleton and Fielding's Jonathan Wild and Tom Jones are the famous picaresque novels in the XVIII Century. Here, the hero travels from place to place, resting in inns, and meeting all sorts of people, gentlemen, rogues, thieves and swindles. He is faithless, shameless plaything of fortune, by turns, valet, gentleman, courtier, and thief. He has little conscience, and has no kindness. This novel describes the society. It is episodic without a harmonious plot structure. The various episodes are loosely connected without any cohesion.

**The Dramatic Novel :**

Here both the plot and character are organically fused. Here the action comes out of the qualities of the characters, as the characters grow and change in accordance with the progress of action. ex:- Jane Austen's novels. Here, two types of developments are noticeable as the action progresses. In the first place, the external or outer progress in the form of the development of action. Secondly, we have the inner development, describing the inner development of the character. Here, the characters change by their interaction with one another.

**The Historical Novel :**

Here, the novel employs history to represent an imaginative reconstruction of events with historical or fictional personage or both. Sir Walter Scott, whose Waverley Novels consist of 27 novels, pioneered the historical novel. Horace Walpole, Clara Reeve and Mrs. Radcliffe were concerned in their historical romances with remote periods of time. It was Scott, who first of all, possessed a feeling for historical realism, in his Waverley Novels. Scott created the historical novel, and all novelists who draw upon history for their characters and events are his followers and acknowledge his mastery.

The Regional Novel :

Here, a particular region is taken to be the subject of considerable interest in itself in rural areas or small towns. It is generally realistic. Scott immortalized Waverley in his historical novel. The Bronte sisters picturesquely depicted the Yorkshire moors. Hardy is the creator of Wessex in his English language. Anthony Trolloppe invented Bartershire for his stories of clerical life. Kipling describes the countryside of Sussex in his fiction. Some of the critical terms / exitical practices to understand the narrative fiction.

**Stream-of-Consciousness :**

First William James used this phrase in his work in Principles of Psychology (1890) to describe the unbroken flow of perceptions, thoughts, and feelings in the waking minds. We find long passages of introspection describing in detail what passes through a character's awareness novel as in the novels of Richardson and Henry James. In Henry James's novel, Portrait of a Lady chapter 42 is entirely given to the narrator's description of the process of Isabella's memories, thoughts and feelings. In 1888 in Edouard Dujardin, a minor French novelist's novel LESLURIERS SONT COUPES we find a rather crude but sustained attempt to represent the scenes and events of the story solely as they impinge upon the consciousness of the central character. Since 1920, this technique is refined and known as the stream-of-consciousness is used as a special mode of narration to reproduce, without a narrator's intervention, the full spectrum and the continuous flow of a character's mental process.

Some critics use "interior monologue" interchangeably with the term stream-of-consciousness. Here the entire process of the rhythm consciousness, without the writer's intervention in narrating what thoughts, feelings of pass through the mind of a characer is described by means of certain non-verbal methods, such as symbols 'colour' sound and other sensory images. It is an exact presentation of the process of consciousness.

James Joyce in his celebrated work Ulysses and Portrait of the Artist as a Young Man developed a variety of devices for this stream-of-consciousness. Dorothy Richardson employs a stream-of-consciousness, mode of narrative, focussed on the mind and perceptions of her heroine, throughout her novel. In Pilgrimage Virginia Woolf employs the procedure as primary narrative mode in her novels, Mrs.Dalloway. To the Lighthouse and William Faulkner in the first three of the four parts The Sound and the Fury.

**Social Novel :**

This narrative form emphasizes the influence of the social and economic conditions of an era as the characters and events. Often it also embodies an implicit or explicit thesis recommending political and social perform. ex: Upton Sinclair's The Jungle. Stein Beck's The Grapes of Wrath In some of the historical novels, where, history is the subjects of the novel, the novelist describes the social and economic forces shaping that historical milieu and the moment. ex: Scott's Ivahoe-describes the period of Norman domination of the Saxons at the time of Richard I; Dickens A Tale of Two Cities set in Paris and London during the French Revolution, Tolstoy's War and Peace and Margaret Mitchell's Gone with the Wind (in Georgia during the civil war and Reconstruction): all describe the social and economic forces at work, during that period. In XX century, we have documentary fiction, incorporating the historical events and contemporary Journalistic reports.ex: John Dos Passos' novel, USA and Doctorow's novels Ragtime and Billy Bathgate. Truman Capote's nonfiction novel uses a variety of novelistic techniques to give a graphic description of the recent characters and happenings and personal interviews with chief agents. ex: Truman Capote's In cold Blood and Norman Mailer's The Executioner's Songs Magic Realism :

The term "magic realism" was originally applied in the 1920's to a school of painters who used this term to describe the prose fiction of Jorge Luis Berges in Argentina and the work of Marquez in Columbia and Gunter Grass in Germany and John Fowles in England.These writers interweave a sharply etched realism in representing ordinary events and descriptive details together with fantastic and dreamlike elements, with materials from myth and fairy tales. Robert Scholes popularized metafiction to denote the large and growing class of novels which depart drastically from the traditional categories of romance or realism. The term fabulation describes the free mode of writing and narrative invention. These novels violate standard novelistic expectations by drastic experiments with subject matter, form, Style,

temporal sequence and fusions of the everyday the fantastic, the mythical and the nightmarish, in renderings blurring the traditional distinctions between what is serious or trivial, horrible or ludicrous or comic. ex. the novels of Thomas Pynchon, John Donald Barthelene, Robert Coover and Ishamael Reed.

**Novel of Sensibility:**

The Novel of Sensibility or sentimental novel of the latter part of the XVIII century emphasizes the tearful distresses of the virtuous, either as their own sorrows or as those of their friends. Some of them represented in addition to a sensitivity to beauty or sublimity which also expressed itself in tears. ex: Richardson's Pamela or Virtue Rewarded; Lawrence Sterne in Tristram Shandy and A Sentimental Journey describes author's compound of sensibility and self-irony. Mackenzie's The Man of Feeling is an extreme form of the sentimental novel. Jane Austen's Sense and Sensibility demonstrates the describes of this novel of sensibility.

Bildungsroman and Erziehungs roman are German in terms signifying "novel of formation" or "novel of education". The growth of a protagonist's mind is the subject of this novel-from childhood through various experiences- passing through spiritual crisis into maturity and the recognition of his or her identity and role in the world. K.P Moritz began this method in his novel, Anton Reiser and Goethe in his Wilnelm Meister's Apprenticeship, and other examples of this method are: Dickens' Great Expectations, Somerset Maugham's Of Human Bondage and Thomas Mann's The Magic Mountain.

**Science Fiction:**

We have examples of science fiction in the works of H.G.Wells, Jules Verne and many current writers, like A.C.Clare who explore the marvels of discovery and describe the future scientific developments and technology. There are also science fiction modes that are related to the satiric mode of utopian fiction. ex: The works of Kurt. Vonnegut Jr's Cat's Cradle.

**Narrative and Narratology:**

Anarrative is a story in prose or verse with events and characters. Some literary forms as the novel and short story in prose and the epic and romance in verse are explicit narratives that are told by parrator. Narratolgoy denotes a recent concern with narrative in general. It deals especially with the identification of structural elements and their diverse modes of combination

**Twentieth Century**...

The modern dramatist took his task seriously and made drama as an instrument of social propaganda and reform.

1.2. Techniques in Modern Fiction

1.2.1. Stream of Consciousness Technique

The term 'stream of consciousness' was coined by William James in his book entitled Principles of Psychology (1890). The phrase refers to the unbroken flow of thought processes in a waking mind. In the words of H.J. Muller,

It is a withdrawal from external phenomena into the flickering half- shades of the author's private world i.e. consciousness is a stream that flows and cannot be seen as a static metaphor.

The stream of consciousness novel took its birth between 1913 and 1915 with three novelists namely Marcel Proust, James Joyce, and Dorothy Richardson. Proust published the two volumes of Remembrance of Things Past (1913) just when Dorothy Richardson was half way through her Pilgrimage and James Joyce was beginning to publish in serial form his A Portrait. That is, these writers were experimenting with the new mode of stream of consciousness novel or the modern analytic novel (as in Thus three writers of French) which caught the very atmosphere of the mind. different talents and temperament turned fiction away from external to internal reality.

This journey of exploration into the realm of feelings and sensations relegated the importance of the traditional story to the background. The opening lines of Joyce's A Portrait clearly demonstrate a departure from the traditional method of narration. Pilgrimage insists upon immediate consciousness as reality. These writers asserted that the presentation of inner reality was the primary job of a novelist. They felt that a story involves certain amount of conscious or unconscious falsification of our experience of life. Life is incomplete, chaotic, and confusion and does not fall into a pattern or a shape like a story. Hence these writers demanded that the story must die in order to enable the novel to gain a new lease of life. In the words of Virginia Woolf,

In this novel, the story might wobble, the plot might crumble, and ruin might seize upon the character. The stream of consciousness novel presents character as a process on a state. It depicts life at the free-speech level of consciousness, incoherent and disorderly. To Virginia Woolf, Life is not a series of Giglands, symmetrically arranged,

life is a luminous hallow, a semi-transparent envelope surrounding us from the beginning of the consciousness to the end.

Hence the novelists, through their art, aim at capturing the uncertainty, complexity, and the indefinite and unknown aspects of life, in the novels. In order to achieve this and to make their novels intelligible, these writers provide explanatory clues in the

**Twentieth Century**...

achievements in all the literary genres. In other words, it is a period full of complexity and contradiction. According to A.C. Ward, "The poetry of modern times shows distinction in genius and breadth of range." Among the notable poets of the modern period are W.B. Yeats, Stephen Spender, Wilfred Owen, T.S. Eliot, W.H. Auden, Dylan Thomas, and Seamus Heaney.

The chief characteristic feature of the 20th century literary scene is a breakdown of values. The outlook of the rising generation was scientific rather than pure intellectual or romantic. It is economical rather than moral and sentimental. The attitude of the new movement is one of challenge, challenge of the old moral social values, challenge of earlier literary forms; it is an age of experimentalizing.

The following are some of the characteristic features of modern poetry.

1. The modern poets, identified in the popular consciousness with the Depression and social upheaval of the 1930s, made use at first of so much private or esoteric symbolism as to render the poetry barely intelligible to any but a small coterie of readers. The best known of these - W. H. Auden, Stephen Spender, and C. Day Lewis

2. Modern poets usually do not use high and ornate style but write in a simple and easy language.

3. The modern poet cannot fix upon a single or suitable theme. So he can write on almost any topic or subject he likes. In fact, a pin also becomes a subject of the poem. He can draw inspiration from trains, the telephone, the aeroplane, and others. Here one is reminded of Stephen Spender's poem The Express where he says thus:

But gliding like a queen she leaves the station Without bowing and with restrained unconcerned She passes the houses which humbly crowd outside

These lines show the beauty of the 'express train' which marches like a queen as she marches past industrial sectors.

4. The modern poetry is known for its note on realism. The grim reality of modern life finds a place in modern poetry. T.S. Eliot's The Preludes and also his The Hollow

Men come before us as the most realistic presentations of the modern society. In his The Hollow Men he says,

We are the stuffed men

We are the hollow men

Leaning together

Headpiece filled with straw. Alas!

Even in his The Preludes he observes thus:

Wipe your head and hand across your mouth and laugh .....

Gatherings feel in vacant lands.

These lines show that the modern poetry represents the grim realities of life.

**1.4. Trends in Modern Drama**

In the history of English literature, Modern English Drama has occupied a prominent place. Ambitiously it has broken some of the traditional forms of soliloquies, asides, and other old conventions, particularly with the contribution made by representative dramatists like Henrik Ibsen, Samuel Beckett, T.S. Eliot, John Osborne, Harold Pinter and others. They have attempted and achieved success with their new kinds of dramas such as 'drama of ideas', 'poetic drama', 'angry drama', and 'absurd drama'.

Towards the end of the nineteenth century, Henrik Ibsen, a Norwegian playwright, entered the literary scene with a popular dramatic form known as 'Problem Play.' He not only provided his audience with realistic situations in his plays but also made the audience ponder over the problems encountered by the community. M.H. Abrams rightly observes,

In problem plays, the situation faced by the protagonist is put forward by the author as a representative instance of a contemporary social problem.

In his powerful play A Doll's House, playgoers imagine that they see people like themselves or their neighbours, sufferings troubles which might be their own, moving in a stage setting which looked like a room in a real house, speaking words which sound like the talk of ordinary people. Besides Ibsen, the writers who practiced this form are Sir Arthur W. Pinero, Galsworthy, and Granville Barker.

Next to appear on the literary scene is 'Poetic Drama.' The term 'poetic drama' became popular during the 1930s/40s. It was T.S. Eliot who revived this drama/term as a reaction to the 'drama of ideas.' His Murder in the Cathedral is the best example of this kind of drama. As a critic, he has written essays like Poetry and Drama and

Possibility of Poetic Drama and so on. In Poetry and Drama, he points out that poetry and drama are inseparable from each other. Poetry mirrors the heart of the person which the reader cannot conceal. Poetic Drama, according to T.S. Eliot, "has far reaching effects as it affects the emotions of a person directly."

Among the practitioners of Poetic drama in the twentieth century may be included Stephen Phillips, John Drinkwater, Stephen Spender, and Christopher Fry. These playwrights never hesitated to exhibit deep emotional feelings of characters thereby exhibiting an intensified view of life. To clothe this vision of the intensity of life, to intensify emotions, the dramatist has to employ verse as the medium of expression.

With the end of the Second World War, the Great Britain witnessed continued shortages in health care, housing, and social insurance. This disenchanted many young men and women of the country. One would perceive class distinctions and middle class morality and also a loss of faith in society.

In Literature the new generation of writers like Kingsley Amis, John Osborne, Sillitoe, and Wilson described various forms of social alienation. In a short time, all such vocal protestors were classified as 'angry young man', or as 'the young angries.' The works of these writers represented as 'Angry Dramas,' - a literature of protest, often articulated through provincial characters with a working class background. These characters were generally disturbed, anguished, angry, desperate and at times funny, pouring out invectives against the society, its codes and institutions. Jimmy Porter in Osborne's Look Back in Anger is one such significant character who comes before us as an angry young man.

Another New Wave that appeared in the realm of theatre in the late 1950s is 'Kitchen Sink Drama.' It is applied to the plays of writers such as Arnold Wesker, and Shelagh Delaney. These playwrights portray working class or middle class life with an emphasis on domestic realism. These plays were written in part as a reaction against the drawing room comedies and middle class dramas of Coward and Rattigan. Tynan primarily championed this new group of writers. Arnold Wesker's play Chicken Soup with Barley is a typical example of kitchen sink drama.

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The Kitchen Sink drama was soon replaced by the 'theatre of the Absurd.' The term 'theatre of the Absurd' is used to characterize the works of a number of European

dramatists Arthur Adamov, Edward Albee, Samuel Beckett, Albert Camus, Jean Genet, Eugene Ionesco, Harold Pinter, and others of the 1950s and early 1960s. These plays present the sufferings of man and the metaphysical anguish to which modern consciousness is subjected. They violate all traditional dramatic conventions and concentrate on the anguished vision of universal reality. In spite of its lack of coherent plot, recognizable character and conflict,it creates an inexplicable restlessness in the spectator or the reader. It provokes our thoughts in several directions. Beckett's Waiting for Godot, Pinter's The Birthday Party, Albee's Who is Afraid of Virginia Woolf, Stoppard's Rosencrantz and Guildenstern are Dead are some of the well-known absurd plays. Thus, one perceives different forms of dramas which stirred the imagination of the modern writers.

### 1.5. Other Literary Forms of the 20th Century Literature

#### 1.5.1. Symbolism

Just as characterization and dialogue and plot work on the surface to move the story along, symbolism works under the surface to tie the story's external action to the theme. Roughly speaking, anything that 'stands for' something else is a symbol, but the process operates in many different ways. For instance, a cross is a symbol of Christianity in one context, and a road intersection by diagrammatical description in another context. Similarly 'rose' is a symbol of beauty in one context and violence in some other context.

Symbolism, a literary movement, was started by a group of French poets in the late 19th century including Laforgue, Mallarme, Valery and Verlaine influenced by Baudelaire, Swedenborg, and Wagner. The symbolists aimed to create poetic images or symbols which would be apprehended by the sense and reach the preconscious world of the spirit. Though short lived as a movement, symbolism influenced great writers such as James Joyce, Marcel Proust, Rilke, and W.B. Yeats.

Literary symbol is one such symbol in which a writer uses a symbol in his work of art. During the Romantic period, poets like Keats and others made use of this symbolist technique to make their poems very powerful.

In English literature, though many writers adopted this technique, it is only W.B. Yeats who profoundly made use of symbols in his poems only to draw the attention of the poetry lovers. His powerful poems Byzantium, Sailing to Byzantium and Second Coming are some of the best examples where symbols are profusely used.

Second Coming is a powerful poem that deals with the rebirth of Jesus Christ. It is highly symbolic. "The falconer' becomes the symbol of Christ. Even in his another typical poem entitled Sailing to Byzantium, the Byzantium represents ‘a place for intellectuals. Besides this, we come across many other symbols. Thus, symbolism gained momentum in the poetry of W.B. Yeats.

**1.5.2. Drama of Ideas**

Up to the 19th century, the creative writers thought that they should entertain and enlighten the audience. But with the contribution of Henrik Ibsen, a Norwegian playwright, there entered the literary scene a popular dramatic form known as 'Problem Play.' Ibsen not only provided his audience with realistic situations in his plays but also made the audience ponder over the problems encountered by the community. M.H. Abrams rightly observes,

In problem plays, the situation faced by the protagonist is put forward by the author as a representative instance of a contemporary social problem.

He created new attitudes to drama and is credited with being the first major dramatist to write tragedies about ordinary people in prose. Bernard Shaw, having taken a cue from Ibsen, became a member of the Fabian society. He thought that a play must make the audience think. He wrote plays which raised the social and moral consciousness of the people of his times. In his book entitled The Quintessence of Ibsenism, Shaw remarks thus:

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Shakespeare had put ourselves on the stage but not our situations. Our uncles seldom murder our fathers, and cannot legally marry our mothers When we raise money by bills we do not promise to pay pounds of flesh... Ibsen supplies the want left by Shakespeare. He gives us not only ourselves, but ourselves in our situations.

...

For instance, we may come across Shylocks in our society but we may not find Shylocks asking for a pound of flesh. This want was supplied by Ibsen.

Shaw, in his plays, exposes social evils like dowry, prostitution, and economic exploitation and offers a solution to the problems. He felt that the function of the artist or theatre is not simply to instruct but to reveal the truth that lies in the heart of man; and in the heart of the universe.

Ibsen's A Doll's House is about a woman's yearning for freedom and assertion of her rights. Arms and the Man by Shaw deals with the problem of marriage and that of

war. Another powerful play The Doctor's Dilemma delineates the exploitation of doctors and his pungent attack on drudgery of scientific discoveries. John Galsworthy's play Justice presents a moving picture of the sufferings inflicted on prisoners in the name of justice.

The term or phrase 'Angry Young Man' seems to have been first used as the title of an autobiography by Leslie Paul published in 1951. It became a catch-phrase in Britain in the middle and late 1950s, and by 1960,at the least, was a much used cliché. In fact the term 'Angry Young Man' Is a journalistic catchphrase loosely applied to a number of foolish playwrights and novelists from the mid-1950s, including K. Amis, J. Osborne, Sillitoe, and Wilson whose political views were radical or anarchic and who described various forms of social alienation.

Apart from journalists, the writer who was mainly but indirectly responsible for its popularity,was John Osborne. His play Look Back in Anger (1957) spoke for a generation of disillusioned and discontented young men who were strongly opposed to the establishment; to its social and political attitudes and mores, and indeed to the whole 'bourgeois society.' Jimmy Porter, the anti-hero of Osborne's play, was really the prototypal modern 'angry young man.' In a short time all such vocal protestors were classified as 'angry young man', or as 'the young angries.'

Angry dramas usually represent a literature of protest, often articulated through provincial characters with a working class background. These characters are generally disturbed, anguished, angry, desperate and at times funny, pouring out invectives against the society, its codes and institutions in seething and vitriolic rhetoric. The language that is employed by the angry dramatists is always pungent and attacking. They use certain images and symbols to convey their feelings and emotions.

**1.5.4. Theatre of the Absurd**

The term 'theatre of the absurd' is applied to a group of European dramatists whose works emerged during the 1950s and early 1960s. It was coined by Martin Esslin and was applied to dramatists such as Arthur Adamov, Edward Albee, Samuel Beckett, Albert Camus, Jean Genet, Eugene Ionesco, Harold Pinter, and others. According to Margaret Drabble,

The theatre of the Absurd drew significantly on popular traditions of entertainment, mime, acrobatics, and circus clowning and by seeking to redefine the legitimate source of serious theatre, played an important role in extending the range of post war drama.

Absurd plays present the sufferings of man and the metaphysical anguish to which modern consciousness is subjected. They violate all traditional dramatic conventions and concentrate on the anguished vision of universal reality. In spite of its lack of coherent plot, recognizable character and conflict it creates an inexplicable restlessness in the spectator or the reader. It provokes our thoughts in several directions.

The predicament of modern man is the subject of the absurd play. It depicts a barren world where communication is impossible, action is impossible, and even rational thinking is impossible. Since these plays represent the futility of human relationships, there is no rational dialogue in them. Strange symbols are used to suggest man's precarious existence. Martin Esslin remarks thus:

If a good play must have a clearly constructed story, these have no story or plot to speak of; if a good play is judged by subtlety of characterization and motivation, these are often without recognizable characters and present the audience with almost mechanical puppets; if a good play has to have a fully explained theme, which is neatly exposed and finally solved, these often have neither a good beginning nor a middle or an end; if a good play is to hold the mirror up to and portray the manners and mannerisms of the age in finely observed sketches, these seem often to be reflections of dreams and nightmares; if a good play relies on witty, repartee and pointed dialogue, these often consist of incoherent babblings.

Beckett's Waiting for Godot, Pinter's The Birthday Party, Albee's Who is Afraid of Virginia Woolf?, Stoppard's Rosencrantz and Guildenstern are Dead and others are some of the well-known absurd plays.

**1.6. Self-Assessment Questions**

1. Write a note on Symbolism in poetry
2. What are the characteristic features of the twentieth century poetry?
3. Explain the stream of consciousness technique.
4. Comment on the theatre of ideas.
5. What is Poetic drama?
6. Examine the features of Absurd drama.
7. What are the salient features of 'Angry' drama?
8. Discuss the trends in modern British drama.

**1.7. Summing Up**

After reading this lesson you must have got an idea about the characteristic features of twentieth century literature and the contributions made by the writers. You know

about the trends, movements, isms, etc. and their salient features. You also learnt what is symbolism, stream of consciousness technique, problem play, poetic drama, angry drama, absurd drama, and other literary forms of the twentieth century literature.

**1.8. Reference Books**

1. Margaret Drabble, Oxford Companion to Literature, Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2009.

2. V. Tomar, 20th Century English Literature: A Survey of Poetry, Drama, Fiction and Criticism, New Delhi: Swastic Publications, 2012.

3. Bamber Gascoigne, Twentieth Century Drama, London: Hutchinson University Library, 1974.

# YOGI VEMANA UNIVERSITY, KADAPA

# DEPARTMENT OF ENGLISH

**M.A ENGLISH LITERATUREAND LANGUAGE**

# SEMESTER - II

**ENGYVU203: FICTION – II**

**With Effect From 2021-22(Under NEP 2020)**

## Program Educational Objectives (PEOs)

- After going through the prescribed text students will be able to understand to study the conditions of the Sensibility in the novels
- To study the characterization from an ironic point of view.
- To study the narrative plot. To study the sturdy rich yet fateful Agrarian background of Hardy's narrative world.
- To study the historical background of war and aesthetic background.

**UNIT – I**

**Background Study : Literary History – Genres – Movements – Ideas – Trends – Concepts**

**UNIT – II**

**1. Sir Walter Scott : The Heart of the Mid Lothian**

**2. Virginia Woolf : Mrs. Dalloway**

**UNIT – III**

**3. James Joyce : The Portrait of an Artist as a Young Man**

**4. D. H. Lawrence : Women in Love**

**Unit - IV**

**5. William Golding : Lord of the Flies**

**6. Graham Greene : The Power and the Glory**

## Program Specific Outcomes (PSOs)

- Familiarizes with the literary history genres, movements, ideas, trends and concepts of that period.
- Studies novels written by the novelists as representatives of their time.

## Suggested Reading:


- The Cambridge History of English Literature
- The English Novel: A Short Critical History – Walter Allen, Penguin Books, Harmonsdsworth
- An Introduction to the English Novel Vols. 1 & 2 – Arnold Kettle, Hutchinson & Co.
- The Literature of the Victorian Era – Hugh Walker, S. Chand & Co., New Delhi
- The English Novel – David Skelton
- The Growth of the English Novel – Richard Church


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## LESSON -1

## TWENTIETH CENTURY LITERATURE

Objectives of the Lesson

After going through this lesson you will get an idea on

1. the characteristic features of Twentieth Century Literature, Some schools and 'isms' which became popular, and

2.

3. The contribution made by the writers to Twentieth Century Poetry, Twentieth Century Novel, and Twentieth Century Drama.

Structure of the Lesson

1.1. Introduction

1.2. Techniques in Modern Fiction

1.2.1. Stream of Consciousness

1.2.2. Interior Monologue

1.3. Characteristics of Modern Poetry

1.4. Trends in Modern Drama

1.5. Other Literary Forms of the 20th

1.5.1. Symbolism

1.5.2. Drama of Ideas

1.5.3. Angry Drama

1.5.4. Theatre of the Absurd

1.6. Self-Assessment Questions

1.7. Summing Up

1.8. Reference Books

Century Literature

1.1. Introduction

Twentieth Century Literature

Literature of the twentieth century refers to 'World Literature' produced during the twentieth century. Sometimes it is loosely called 'Modern Literature' or 'Modernism.' It is seen as a literary movement spanning from the last quarter of the nineteenth century in France and from 1890 in Great Britain and Germany to the start of the Second World War. As an artistic and cultural movement, it may be said to have begun in the last decades of the nineteenth century in parts of Europe. In the early decades of the

twentieth century, it spread to the USA. In fact, it cannot be studied in one continent alone since writers were influenced by and corresponded with their fellow artists in other places.

Modern literature may also be viewed as a collective term for the remarkable variety of contending groups, movements, and schools in literature, art and music. It is a complex one, accommodating many 'isms' and movements like Symbolism, Structuralism, New Criticism, Impressionism, Deconstruction, Naturalism, Structuralism, Magic Realism, Expressionism, Theatre of Ideas or Dramas of Ideas, Poetic Drama, Kitchen-sink Drama, Angry Drama, Absurd Drama and so on..

Twentieth century literature is marked with experimentation, particularly in the manipulation of form. It has broken some of the traditional bases of Western Art and Western Culture, particularly with the contributions made by James Joyce and Virginia Woolf in fiction, Thomas Stearns Eliot in poetry, and Samuel Beckett as well as Henrik Ibsen, Johan August Strindberg, and George Bernard Shaw in theatre.

In the realm of novel, one may boldly say that James Joyce's Ulysses may be taken as a typical example of the modernist novel. A notoriously complex novel, it employs the stream-of-consciousness technique as a remarkable means of character portrayal, combining with the mimicry of ordinary speech the parody of earlier literary styles. Using experimental techniques to convey the essential nature of realistic situations, Joyce merged the literary traditions of Realism, Naturalism, and Symbolism. He scrutinized every detail, transforming the trivial into the significant and symbolic, and made intricate connections between his characters and literary and historical figures.

Taking a cue from James Joyce, Virginia Woolf too used the same technique in her novels. Her novel Mrs. Dalloway is considered one of the best examples of this kind of technique. It is an impressive work and shows a brilliance and fitness in execution that no critic can forbear to admire. It follows Clarissa Dalloway throughout a single day in post-Great War England in a stream of consciousness narrative. It carries all the traits of Woolf's novels - stream of consciousness, interior monologue, a poetic style, suppression of plot, suppression of objective character descriptions and camera-eye-technique.

Modernist poetry is evident from Georgian poets just prior to the First World War. Even the Soldier poets are considered to be the most important figures in modernist poetry. In fact, T.S. Eliot's The Waste Land, with its sweeping through time and space and indirection and ambiguity, has captured the largest audience of the twentieth

century. Its despairing mood, gallows humour, and seemingly hopeful ending appealed to many readers after the First World War. So, one can possibly accept T.S. Eliot as the most representative poet of the modern poetry. But in British drama, one sees a few perceptible trends and experiments.

The twentieth century heralded the birth of the new drama, and gave it a refreshing vitality which had almost reached the nadir of its fame as a powerful literary force. In the age of modernism it has reached a standard stage which has never been surpassed except, perhaps, by the Elizabethan Age. The swiftness of this transformation is astounding. As the time passed ,new trends were introduced in drama and every effort was made by dramatists to make drama life-like, realistic, and appealing to the common man. As a result, drama gradually began to appeal to the audience. There was no opposition to the production of drama by the public, for the

**Sir Walter Scott**

Sir Walter Scott, in full Sir Walter Scott, 1st Baronet, (born August 15, 1771, Edinburgh, Scotland—died September 21, 1832, Abbotsford, Roxburgh, Scotland), Scottish novelist, poet, historian, and biographer who is often considered both the inventor and the greatest practitioner of the historical novel.

Scott's father was a lawyer, and his mother was the daughter of a physician. From his earliest years, Scott was fond of listening to his elderly relatives' accounts and stories of the Scottish Border, and he soon became a voracious reader of poetry, history, drama, and fairy tales and romances. He had a remarkably retentive memory and astonished visitors by his eager reciting of poetry. His explorations of the neighbouring countryside developed in him both a love of natural beauty and a deep appreciation of the historic struggles of his Scottish forebears.

Scott was educated at the high school at Edinburgh and also for a time at the grammar school at Kelso. In 1786 he was apprenticed to his father as writer to the signet, a Scots equivalent of the English solicitor (attorney). His study and practice of law were somewhat desultory, for his immense youthful energy was diverted into social activities and into miscellaneous readings in Italian, Spanish, French, German, and Latin. After a very deeply felt early disappointment in love, he married, in December

1797, Charlotte Carpenter, of a French royalist family, with whom he lived happily until her death in 1826.

In the mid-1790s Scott became interested in German Romanticism, Gothic novels, and Scottish border ballads. His first published work, *The Chase, and William and Helen* (1796), was a translation of two ballads by the German Romantic balladeer G.A. Bürger. A poor translation of Goethe's *Götz von Berlichingen* followed in 1799. Scott's interest in border ballads finally bore fruit in his collection of them entitled *Minstrelsy of the Scottish Border*, 3 vol. (1802–03). His attempts to "restore" the orally corrupted versions back to their original compositions sometimes resulted in powerful poems that show a sophisticated Romantic flavour. The work made Scott's name known to a wide public, and he followed up his first success with a full-length narrative poem, *The Lay of the Last Minstrel* (1805), which ran into many editions. The poem's clear and vigorous storytelling, Scottish regionalist elements, honest pathos, and vivid evocations of landscape were repeated in further poetic romances, including *Marmion* (1808), *The Lady of the Lake* (1810), which was the most successful of these pieces, *Rokeby* (1813), and *The Lord of the Isles* (1815).

Scott led a highly active literary and social life during these years. In 1808 his 18-volume edition of the works of John Dryden appeared, followed by his 19-volume edition of Jonathan Swift (1814) and other works. But his finances now took the first of several disastrous turns that were to partly determine the course of his future career. His appointment as sheriff depute of the county of Selkirk in 1799 (a position he was to keep all his life) was a welcome supplement to his income, as was his appointment in 1806 as clerk to the Court of Session in Edinburgh. But he had also become a partner in a printing (and later publishing) firm owned by James Ballantyne and his irresponsible brother John. By 1813 this firm was hovering on the brink of financial disaster, and although Scott saved the company from bankruptcy, from that time onward everything he wrote was done partly in order to make money and pay off the lasting debts he had incurred. Another ruinous expenditure was the country house he was having built at Abbotsford, which he stocked with enormous quantities of antiquarian objects.

By 1813 Scott had begun to tire of narrative poetry, and the greater depth and verve of Lord Byron's narrative poems threatened to oust him from his position as supreme purveyor of this kind of literary entertainment. In 1813 Scott rediscovered the

unfinished manuscript of a novel he had started in 1805, and in the early summer of 1814 he wrote with extraordinary speed almost the whole of his novel, which he titled *Waverley*. It was one of the rare and happy cases in literary history when something original and powerful was immediately recognized and enjoyed by a large public. A story of the Jacobite rebellion of 1745, it reinterpreted and presented with living force the manners and loyalties of a vanished Scottish Highland society. The book was published anonymously, as were all of the many novels he wrote down to 1827.

In *Waverley* and succeeding novels Scott's particular literary gifts could be utilized to their fullest extent. First and foremost, he was a born storyteller who could place a large cast of vivid and varied characters in an exciting and turbulent historical setting. He was also a master of dialogue who felt equally at home with expressive Scottish regional speech and the polished courtesies of knights and aristocrats.

His deep knowledge of Scottish history and society and his acute observation of its mores and attitudes enabled him to play the part of a social historian in insightful depictions of the whole range of Scottish society, from beggars and rustics to the middle classes and the professions and on up to the landowning nobility. The attention Scott gave to ordinary people was indeed a marked departure from previous historical novels' concentration on royalty. His flair for picturesque incidents enabled him to describe with equal vigour both eccentric Highland personalities and the fierce political and religious conflicts that agitated Scotland during the 17th and 18th centuries. Finally, Scott was the master of a rich, ornate, seemingly effortless literary style that blended energy with decorum, lyric beauty with clarity of description.

Scott followed up *Waverley* with a whole series of historical novels set in Scotland that are now known as the "Waverley" novels. *Guy Mannering* (1815) and *The Antiquary* (1816) completed a sort of trilogy covering the period from the 1740s to just after 1800. The first of four series of novels published under the title *Tales of My Landlord* was composed of *The Black Dwarf* and the masterpiece *Old Mortality* (1816). These were followed by the masterpieces *Rob Roy* (1817) and *The Heart of Midlothian* (1818), and then by *The Bride of Lammermoor* and *A Legend of Montrose* (both 1819).

It was only after writing these novels of Scottish history that Scott, driven by the state of his finances and the need to satisfy the public appetite for historical fiction that he himself had created, turned to themes from English history and elsewhere. He thus wrote *Ivanhoe* (1819), a novel set in 12th-century England and one that remains his most popular book. *The Monastery* and *The Abbot* followed in 1820, and *The Pirate* and *The Fortunes of Nigel* appeared in 1822. Two more masterpieces were *Kenilworth* (1821), set in Elizabethan England, and the highly successful *Quentin Durward* (1823), set in 15th-century France. The best of his later novels are *Redgauntlet* (1824) and *The Talisman* (1825), the latter being set in Palestine during the Crusades.

In dealing with the recent past of his native country, Scott was able to find a fictional form in which to express the deep ambiguities of his own feeling for Scotland. On the one hand he welcomed Scotland's union with England and the commercial progress and modernization that it promised to bring, but on the other he bitterly regretted the loss of Scotland's independence and the steady decline of its national consciousness and traditions.

Novel after novel in the "Waverley" series makes clear that the older, heroic tradition of the Scottish Jacobite clans (supporters of the exiled Stuart king James II and his descendants) had no place in the modern world; the true heroes of Scott's novels are thus not fighting knights-at-arms but the lawyers, farmers, merchants, and simple people who go about their business oblivious to the claims and emotional ties of a heroic past. Scott became a novelist by bringing his antiquarian and romantic feeling for Scotland's past into relation with his sense that Scotland's interests lay with a prudently commercial British future. He welcomed civilization, but he also longed for individual heroic action. It is this ambivalence that gives vigour, tension, and complexity of viewpoint to his best novels.

Scott's immense earnings in those years contributed to his financial downfall. Eager to own an estate and to act the part of a bountiful laird, he anticipated his income and involved himself in exceedingly complicated and ultimately disastrous financial agreements with his publisher, Archibald Constable, and his agents, the Ballantynes. He and they met almost every new expense with bills discounted on work still to be done; these bills were basically just written promises to pay at a future date.

This form of payment was an accepted practice, but the great financial collapse of 1825 caused the four men's creditors to demand actual and immediate payment in cash. Constable was unable to meet his liabilities and went bankrupt, and he in turn dragged down the Ballantynes and Scott in his wake because their financial interests were inextricably intermingled. Scott assumed personal responsibility for both his and the Ballantynes' liabilities and thus courageously dedicated himself for the rest of his life to paying off debts amounting to about £120,000.

Everyone paid tribute to the selfless honesty with which he set himself to work to pay all his huge debts. Unfortunately, though, the corollary was reckless haste in the production of all his later books and compulsive work whose strain shortened his life. After the notable re-creation of the end of the Jacobite era in *Redgauntlet*, he produced nothing equal to his best early work, though his rapidity and ease of writing remained largely unimpaired, as did his popularity. Scott's creditors were not hard with him during this period, however, and he was generally revered as the grand old man of English letters. In 1827 Scott's authorship of the "Waverley" novels was finally made public. In 1831 his health deteriorated sharply, and he tried a continental tour with a long stay at Naples to aid recovery. He was taken home and died in 1832.

Scott gathered the disparate strands of contemporary novel-writing techniques into his own hands and harnessed them to his deep interest in Scottish history and his knowledge of antiquarian lore. The technique of the omniscient narrator and the use of regional speech, localized settings, sophisticated character delineation, and romantic themes treated in a realistic manner were all combined by him into virtually a new literary form, the historical novel. His influence on other European and American novelists was immediate and profound, and though interest in some of his books declined somewhat in the 20th century, his reputation remains secure. Scott wrote articles on "Chivalry," "Romance," and "Drama" for *Encyclopædia Britannica*'s fourth edition (1801–09).

**Summary**

*The Heart of Midlothian* (1818) by seminal Scottish writer Sir Walter Scott details the political turmoil occurring through Scotland in 1736, as well as one

woman's mission for justice. It was published under the pseudonym Jedediah Cleishbotham, and the identity of the author was revealed only posthumously. Of Scott's numerous works, *The Heart of Midlothian* often ranks as one of his best.

Its themes include justice, honesty, and the value of religion

The work opens to the Porteous Riots of 1736 in Edinburgh, Scotland. This was a mob reaction to the authoritarian Captain John Porteous, who ordered the death of three men who may or may not have stolen some goods. The men are being held in Old Tolbooth prison, which is at the epicenter of Midlothian county, the site of many public executions. Events related to the Porteous Riots take up most of the first volume.

Purportedly inspired by a letter Scott once received concerning a real woman named Helen Walker, he introduces the second major push of the novel, which centers around Jeanie Deans. After her younger sister, the beautiful yet spoiled Effie Deans, is incorrectly charged with killing her own baby, Jeanie—a highly moral and religious person—walks all the way to London to plead her sister's case and receive a pardon from the king and queen of the U.K. Jeanie's pilgrimage to the king and queen is the prime subject of the second volume.

Jeanie refuses to tell any lie to save her sister's life and believes that appealing to the monarchy will help her case. Jeanie has a strong sense of right and wrong; her father, David Deans, once ran a nunnery and is a devoted Presbyterian. But before she can reach the royal court, Jeanie has to contend with the mob of the Porteous Riots. The mob places any authority figures they see under their jurisdiction. This includes the young minister Reuben Butler, who happens to be in love with Jeanie. Reuben observes how during the prison break, Effie refuses to leave the prison; doing so would be akin to admitting she committed the crime to which she was charged. Reuben reports this scene to Jeanie, and Jeanie becomes further convinced that her sister is innocent.

The next time she visits the prison, Jeanie learns that the father of Effie's baby is none other than Geordie Robertson, a charismatic criminal who actually sneaked into Old Tolbooth and hung Captain Porteous before his official execution. Effie hid the pregnancy from everyone, even her family members; since no one can attest to her giving birth, there is no evidence to suggest that she did not kill her baby. Reuben

Butler and Jeanie would like to be married, but Reuben currently makes too little money to support a family. When Jeanie tells him she's going to walk to London to plead her sister's case, Reuben tries to dissuade her, but to no avail. Eventually, he decides to help her mission. Recalling that his grandfather once gave the Duke of Argyll an invaluable favor, he writes an introductory letter for Jeanie and bids her success.

Getting to London by foot is no simple matter. Along with common vagabonds who haunt the roads, Jeanie is accosted by Meg Murdockson, an older woman (and probable witch) who hates Geordie Robertson and Effie Deans because her own daughter, Madge Wildfire, once loved Geordie, but he ditched for Effie. In fact, Madge stole Effie's baby as punishment for their affair. To keep her from rescuing Effie, Meg goes so far as attempting to murder Jeanie. In volume three, Jeanie meets the Duke of Argyll, who is impressed by her manners and her mission. He arranges for her to meet Queen Caroline (Queen of England from 1727-1737). The Queen is so moved by Jeanie's conviction that she tells her husband, King George II, to issue a royal pardon.

Jeanie returns to Scotland. To her delight, she discovers that her father is the new manager of a valuable plot of land; the kind Duke of Argyll gave him this new honorific duty. Meanwhile, Rueben Butler has received a major promotion as a minister in Knocktarlitie. Now with enough money, Rueben and Jeanie become engaged. Jeanie's father isn't totally on board with the marriage (Reuben tries to educate everyone and is a bit annoying), but he considers it well and good that his daughter is marrying a minister. In the last volume, Reuben and Jeanie have three children together. Effie's future, however, is not nearly as happy. Though she marries George Staunton, a Scottish lord, Effie reveals that the son that everyone thought was murdered was actually sold to a work gang by the wicked Meg Murdockson. In fact, George Staunton is really Geordie Robertson, the guy who killed Captain Porteous and seduced Effie in the first place.

Later, when the boy comes of age, he returns to Scotland to murder his father. He successfully shoots and kills Sir Staunton, before fleeing to the U.S., where is never heard from again. Now a widow, Effie moves to London. She seems to enjoy high-life society, but eventually shocks her sister by announcing she's moving to

France to become a nun. Jeanie is stunned that her sister would give up the Protestant religion she grew up with to become Roman Catholic.

## BACKGROUND LESSON
## Mrs. DALLOWAY

**Objective: -**

To study the historical background of war and aesthetic background

Life and Work of Virginia Woolf :-Born in 1882, her father a prominent Victorian intellectual- is a major influence on her artistic and personal imagination

**Bloomsbury Group: -** Consists of EM Forster, T.S. Eliot and Roger Fry F and J.M. Keynes This group opposed the oppressed intellectual interests Historical Background: -The First World War provides the historical background to her imagination

**LIFE AND WORK:**

Virginia Woolf was born in 1882. Her father Sir Leslie Stephen, was a prominent Victorian intellectual who wrote books on history, biography and philosophy and his most celebrated work is his of National Biography. The large Stephen family lived in a house near Hyde Park in London. They were a comfortable, upper middle, class family with social connections both with artists and writers and with social elite. Along with her sister, Vanessa, Viginia Woolf had formal education at home. Virginia Woolf's life was deeply marked by a number of deaths in her family.

Her much-loved mother died when she was only 13 years old. Her death destroyed for ever the secure, cheerful family. Her half Sister stella Duckworth who took over mother's place, too passed away. Lislie Stephen died in 1904 after a long and painful illness through which Virginia nursed him. Two years later her brother Thoby of whrous (she won very) Font, suddenly died of typhoid. Then Virginia Woolf was stice only 24 years old.

These deaths left her badly shaken and deeply distressed. Her diaries show that she was obsessed with the memory of her dead parents for a long time, until she was in her mid-forties. She wrote a portrait of them and their marriage in her novel, To the Lighthouse. After her mother's death, her mental health, deteriorated. She suffere her second, after her father's death in 1904. She suffered hallucinations and attempted to kill herself by throwing herself from a window. In 1913, she was again severely ill after

many months and again attempted suicide. Her breekdowns became less severe auter 1916, but for the rest of her life she was liable to suffer from grave depression, nervous tension and physical illness. The madness of septimus Warren Smith in Mrs. Dalloway and his treatment at the hands of the doctors are closely based on Virginia Woolf's own experiences.

**BLOOMSBURY GROUP:**

After her father's death, Virginia and her sisters set up home in Bloomsbury a less fashonable district of London. It is associated with intellectual life. Their home became a meeting place for their brothers, friends from Cambridge University and the Bloomsbury Group was formed. This group of friends represented much of what most moderns both in their rejection of the oppressive and itellectual interests. Roger Fry introduced the post-impressionist paintings of Paul Cezanne and Henri Matisse. Freud's works were translated into English. EM Forster and T.S. Eliot were associated with this group. Virginia Woolf became its most celebrated writer of fiction, while John Mayanard Keynes with his revolutionary economic theory was associated with this group.

In 1912, Virginia married Leonard Woolf. He worked for a living as he started a career in the colonial service as an administator in Ceylon. He gave up this career to marry Virginia to become as independent intellectual, a professional editor, writer and publisher. He won a commonsensical, practical man, who viewed the dominant culture with extreme scepticism and whose intellectual interests were more political than aesthetic. Virginia Woolf led a very active social life and cultivated relations with aristocratic women. Parties like that given by Clarissa Dalloway, were very much part of

her life. Virginia Woolf is generally regarded as one of the finest English novelists. Her first novel The Voyage was published in 1915, but it was only in her third novel Jacob's Room (1922) that she began to write in her characteristically modernist narrative style. Mrs. Dalloway (1925) and To The Light House 1927, The Waves (1931), and Between the Acts (1941) are in the tradition of the stream-of conscious technique. Her other works include her feminist work, A Room of One's Own (1929) and Three Guineas and The Common Reader (1925) and The Second Common Reader. 1932 Virginia Woolf died in 1941. Depressed and frightened by the thousher she was

again on the verge of madness she put frocks into the pockets of coat and drowned herself in a river which ran near her home.

Virginia Woolf's theories of stream of consciousness (first applied by Dorothy to Docothy Richardson by May Sinclair) defines her own narrative imagination. According to her, it is her interest "to examine for a moment, an ordinary mind on an ordinary day receiving a myriad impressions to trace the pattern which each sight or incident scores upon the consciousness as her later novels, namely The Waves and Between the Acts are more consciously poetic. To the Lighthouse is a memorable novel with vivid memories of her father Leslie Stephen. Most of her novels are on a small scale.

**Historical Background of Mrs. Dalloway :**

The period of Virginia Woolf's early life was one of profound social and cultural changes. She was born into the Victorian world and came to maturity as an author in the modern world. The Victorian valves of the empire 'Civilisation' 'progress' and 'duty' are mocked in this novel. The Victorian notion that huge areas of the earth should be ruled from Britain became sceptical. This idea was based on the assumption that the cultural superiority of the British and on it was based on the idea of the rational quality of the British political institutions and beliefs. These beliefs were shattered by the experience of the First World War of 1914-1800. The Great War was seen as a demonstration of the forces of aggression and irrational hatred and gross political and military incompetence and cruelty. According to Freud, the war was unleashing of pent-up instinctual aggresion and that civilisation was a thin veneer of deceptive behaviour covering over untamed brutalities. For writers like Virginia Woolf, the war threw doubt on many of the central beliefs and values of ruling-class culture and on mititary values and patriotism. The war did much to undermine the self-confidence and self-satisfaction of pre-war culture on to initiate new age of European culture, the age of scepticism.

Virginia Woolf in this novel shows mockery at the delayed response of the English society in responding to the horrors of the war. Many other cultural issues began to change in this period. The Russian Revolution represented the challenge to the old ruling classes of the world. In Britain the trade unions and Labour Party came into existence. Ramsay Macdonald became British First Labour Prime Minister in January 1924. Six months after the death of Mrs. Dalloway's fictional party. Other important

cultural social changes that provide background to this novel include the position of women in society.

The Bloomsbury Group prided themselves of having brought about the great cultural change, displacing the repressive prudery of the Victorian society. As Peter Walsh remarks, so much more was possible for women in personal behaviour. At the societal level, many women had been drawn into work during the war and were able to gain entry into the universities. In Politics the Sufragettes who campaigned for votes for women had declared a truce in the battle for the vote in 1914. With the outbreak of war on 10 August 1914, all Suffragette prisoners were released and their leader ordered a suspension of all militant activities. Virginia Woolf worked for the Suffragettes in 1910, by 1928 full equality of voting rights between men and women were granted. However, Virginia Woolf and her husband worked hard themselves as professional people.

All her life she terribly hated and feared male arrogance pride and power. She denounced the tyranny of self-important men as Sir William Bradshaw. In particular, she hated male violence of any kind male violence, of imperial rule, of state, of war and psychological violence of oppression within personal relationships. This period saw dramatic developments in art and literatare in the form of modern painting in 1910, when Regefry organized a post-impressionist Exhibition in London.

She was fascinated by the picture things which were experienced from different perspectives and of different times. By overcoming the traditional limitations of time, she was interested to show how each moment in time does not simply pass by but live on in memory and consciousness. Virginia Woolf was enormously excited by the works of Marcel Proust as she was about to begin Mrs. Dalloway. She shares with Proust her fascination with time and memory as subjects for exploration in her writing and her sense of social satire. She also read Joyce's Ulysses with mixed feelings. Dorothy Richardson's stream-of- consciousness novel influenced her technique of narration.

**PLOT:**

Mrs. Clarissa Dalloway went to make last-minute preparations for an evening party. During her day in the city she enjoyed the summer air, the many sights and people, the general bustle of London. She met Hugh Whitbread, now a court official, a handsome and sophisticated man. She had known Hugh since her youth, and she knew his wife, Evelyn, as well, but she did not particularly Evelyn. Other people came down to London to see paintings, to hear music, or to shop. The Whitbreads came down to

consult doctors, for Evelyn was always ailing. care for Mrs. Dalloway went about her shopping while she was in a flower shop.a luxurious limousine pulled up outside.

Everyone speculated on the occupant behind the drawn curtains of the car. the queen was inside, felt that she was right when the car drove into the Buckingham Palace grounds. Everywhere the limousine went, it was followed by curious eyes. Mrs. Dalloway, who had thought that The sights and sounds of London remind Mrs. Dalloway of many things. She thought back to her youth, to her husband, to her daughter Elizabeth. Her daughter was indeed a problem and all because of that horrid Miss Kilman was something of a religious fanatic, who scoffed at the luxurious living of the Dalloways and felt sorry for Mrs. Dalloway.

Mrs Dalloway hated her. Miss Kilman was not at all like the friend of her own girlhood. Sally Seton had been different. Mrs. Dalloway had really loved Sally. Mrs. Dalloway wondered what love really was. She had loved Sally, but she had loved Richard Dalloway and Peter Walsh too. She had married Richard, and then Peter had left for India. Later she learned that he had married some one he met on shipboard. She had heard little about his wife since his marriage. But the day was wonderful. The war was over and she was giving a party.

While Mrs. Dalloway was shopping, Septimus Smith and his wife were sitting in the park. Septimus had married Lucrezia while he was serving in Italy, and she had given up her family and her country for him. Now he frightened her because he acted so queerly and talked of committing suicide. The doctor said that there was nothing wrong with him, nothing wrong physically. Septimus, one of the first to volunteer for war duty, had gone to war to save his country, the England of Shakespeare. Whe he got back, he was a war hero and he was given a good job at the office. They had nice lodgings and Lucrezia was happy. Septimus began reading Shakespeare again.

He was unhappy; he brooded. He and Lucrezia had no children. To Septimus the world was in such horrible condition that it was unjust to bring children into it. When Septimus began to have visitions from Evans, a comrade who had been killed in the war, Lucrezia became even more frightened and she called in Dr.Holmes. Septimus felt almost completely abandoned by that time. Lucrezia could not understand why her husband did not like Dr. Holmes, for he was so kind, so much interested in Septimus. Finally she took her husband to Sir William Bradshaw, a wealthy and noted psychiatrist, Septimus had had a brilliant career ahead of him. His employer spoke highly of his work. No one knew why he wanted to kill himself. Septimus would be by

himself, without his wife. It was not, Sir William said, a question of preference. Since he had threatened suicide, it was a question of law.

In the meantime Mrs. Dalloway returned home. Lady Bruton had invited Richard Dalloway to lunch. Mrs Dalloway had never like Millicent Bruton; she was far too clever. Then Peter Walsh came to call. and Mrs. Dalloway was surprised and happy to see him again. She introduced him to her Elizabeth. He asked Mrs. Dalloway if she were happy; she wondered why. When he left, she called out to him not to forget her party. Peter thought, Clarissa Dalloway and her partiest! That was all life meant to her. He had been divorced from his wife, and had come to England. Fo him, life was far more complicated. He had fallen in love with another woman, one who had two children, and he had come to London to arrange for her divorce and to get some sort of a job. He hoped Hugh Whitbread would find him one, something in the government.

That night Clarissa Dalloway's party was a great success. At first she was afraid that it would fail. But at last the prime minister arrived and her evening was complete. Peter was there, and Peter met Lady Rossetter. Lady Rossetter turned out to be Sally Seton. She had not been invited, but had just dropped in. She had five sons, she told Peter. They chatted. Then Elizabeth came in and Peter noticed how beautiful she was.. Later, Sir William Bradshaw and his wife entered. They were late, they explained, because one of Sir Williams's patients had jumped out of a window before they could take him into the country.

Clarissa was upset. Here was death, she thought. Although the suicide was completely unknown to her. she somehow felt it was her own disaster, her own disgrace. The poor young man had thrown away his life when it became useless. Clarissa had never thrown away anything more valuable than a shilling into the Serpentine. Yes, once she had stood beside a fountain while Peter Walsh, angry and humiliated, had asked her whether she intended to marry Richard. And Richard had never been prime minister. Instead, the prime-minister came to her parties. Now she was growing old. Clarissa Dalloway knew herself at last for the beautiful, charming, inconsequential person she was.

Sally and Peter talked on. They thought idly of Clarissa and Richard, and wondered whether they were happy together. Sally agreed that Richard had improved. She left Peter and went to talk with Richard. Peter was feeling strange. A sort of terror and ecstasy took hold of him, and he could not be certain what it was that excited him so suddenly. It was Clarissa, he thought. Even after all these years, it must be Clarissa.

**THEME:**

The reaction of society to the unprecedented experience of the Great war, which runs throughout this narrative, on many of the characters' lives have been influenced by the war directly or indirectly and most obviously, through the character of Septimus Warren Smith, who shows a delayed reaction to this war experience in the form of deep inner injuries. The ruling class, represented by Lady s living in a state of disguised decadence. They had no notion that the war was a decisive Bruton was experience in English. So, the general theme of the book is that traditional culture denies the reality of war with images of glamour and heroism, as it also links it with other archaic, sentimental images associated with royalty.

Power is another theme in this narrative. When Sir William Bradshaw is attacked for being a worshipper of the Goddess of Conversion. On the face of it, it is not at all clear that the attack on Bradshaw is justified. There is nothing cruel in his recommendation that Septimus should go into a home where he can be properly cared for. The anger of the narrator and the ironic description of Bradshaw as a worshipper of the Goddess Conversion are based on the accusation that there is something illegitimate about the manner in which he wields power. Clarissa Dalloway's instinctive dislike of Bradshaw is based on the same intuition about him. Madness is one more theme we find in this narrative.

According to Virginia Woolf, the theme of the novel is to see the world as seen "by the sane and the insane", as we realize in this novel that there is a fundamental similarity in the thought processess of the sane and insane. The thought processes of Septimus Warren Smith are similar to those of the thought processes of other people, as this same general relationship between the sane and insane exists in many other characters and situations in the novel. Septimus is given to the insane habit of looking for signs and messages in the events of the world around him. When he sees the plane flying over London sky-writing, he misinterprets what it is doing, for he believes it to be writing a personal message for himself.

Time is perhaps the major thematic preoccupation of Virginia Woolf in this narrative, as there are different time entities.

First is the clock time according to which, the subjective side of the man and woman are guided by this clocktime; second is the subjective time, as it is preserved in memory and synthetic intuition. In this subjective or intuitive time, the events are not predicatable. Clarissa and her friends see that summer long ago as Burton as having

been crucial in determining their whole lives and they each have vivid memories of it. For Septimus, it has turned out that the death of his friend Evans/ is an even which has subsequently dominated his subjective life, the third time frame of reference is the historical time; used to describe the history of our nations or societies.

This historic time constantly instructs the narrative action, as indicated by the Great War; finally there is the cosmic time. This cosmic time frame work is of great importance in English culture since the publication of Darwin's theory of evolution as Clarissa is herself familiar with it from her reading of Huxley and Tyndall. It is the frame work of the time of the universe and its evolution, for greater expanses of time than those of human history. Viewing human lives and human history in the perspective of this time framework had greatly contributed to the erosion of religious belief in the English culture.

**CHARACTERIZATION :**

**Clarissa Dalloway:**

Clarissa Dalloway's one gift is that she knows people almost by instinct' and yet she does not make judgments about them. Peter Walsh is similarly hesitant. Clarissa is fifty-one years old and has recently suffered an illness which has turned her hair white. She is from a wealthy upper-class family and lives in some luxury in central London in a large house with many servents. Perhaps partly because of her illness and her sense of having aged, she seems preoccupied with death. But Peter Walsh remembers that even when she was young she had a horror of death.

It may have been a dÃ©cisive enemy in her life that as a young girl, she witnessed the death of her sister, who was accidentally crushed by a falling tree. As she is not adventurous, she needs security. She is not impulsive. She is in love with Sally Selta, who is notoriously impulsive, a risk-taker. But she chose to marry Richard Dalloway rather than Peter Walsh, as Richard is more steady and predictable, more competent and therefore, more comfortable, able to protect her against the shocks of life.

She is a person of severe limitations, as she suffers from dreadful triviality. She is witt intelligence, interest in politics, as she mixes up Albanians and Armenians. She has no interest anything outside her life. According to Miss Kilman, she comes from the most worthless of all classes, the en with a smattering of culture. According to Peter Walsh, she is a snob, who "cares too much for rank and society and getting on in the world". One important fact about her is her relationship with her daughter.

Her other main characteristic is her emotional and physical frigidity. She thinks herself like a num, cloistened she sometimes thinks that she lacks the warmth of physical intimacy the fire of sexual passion. She can suffer moments of regrets if she thinks of her life as having been deprived of these traits of her personality. This may be because of a healthy resistance to the dependence of romantic love. She feels a strong need for privacy, independence, autonomy, even between house and wife. She feels that intense emotions can be tyrannical. She thinks of both love and religion, the two intense emotional commitments in Miss Kilman's life, as being destructive and tyrannical forces.

This resistance connects Mrs. Dalloway to Septimus Warren Smith and gives her an instinctive understanding of his suicide. For she feels and distrusts Sir William Bradshaw as sees him as someone who would force other people's souls. She interprets Septimus suicide, as a positive act of defiance and self-defence: She has within her. some creative power. some vision, some poetry which they seek as she and Septimus draw comfort. their incantation of lines from Shakespeare.

to destroy, a  Her daughter. Elizabeth Dalloway provides a useful vantage point for discussing her mother's strengths and weaknesses. She agreees with Miss Kilman's assessment many of her mother's life as trivial. She is in the process of rejecting her mother as a role models for her own life, and decides that she will not talk with her mother's life, which again suggests that they are not very close. In any case, she would be unhappy in the traditional role of woman of her class with her ambitions limited to marriage, children and parties. She is a modern girl and is being touched by some of the changes that have taken place in English society since the Green War.

Richard Dalloway, a typical land -owning gentleman with an estate is addicted to country wars. He is the pompous Hugh Whitbread. He is a decent but unexciting man, who like his wife Clarissa, suffers from severe limitations. He is without imagination and political will. But the warmth and tenderness of his feeling seems genuine, as his attachment to his daughter. He is jealous, possesive. His inability to allow her own space is his real weakness, spoiling his whole life.

**Septimus Warren Smith and Lucrezia:**

Septimus Warren Smith's insanity is certainly based on Virginia Woolf's own experiences in 1895 and 1915. She also explores the problem in her other novels, The Voyage Out and The Waves but it is in Septimus Warren Smith that we have the fullest and most revealing account of the subjective experience of madness. As it is difficult to

call Septimus Warren Smith's behaviour madness, the doctor believes that people like him lack a sense of proportion. We are told very little about him or his background. In particular, we know nothing next to about his family.

He is twenty-four years old, has been married for five years and comes from a lower class background. Everything that is crucial to understanding his fate, has happened during and since the war. In the army he had been befriended by an officer called Evans, but he was killed just before the war ended. Psychologically, the crucial aspect of this episode is Septimus's reaction to Evans's death: he could not grieve for him and in fact seems to have repressed all feeling for him. He seems to experience even the most engaging things with

detachment, as if at a distance.

Septimus's mental state was not completely incapacitating in the first year after the war. He married Lucrezia, a hat-maker daughter of an inn-keeper in Milan. She is a likeabe single woman, whose main ambition is to have children and who is manifestly out of her depth with Septimus's illness. She does not understand as all what is happening to him and is as first inclined to believe Dr Holmes for whom mental disintegration and suicidal depression are no more than forms of cowardice to be cured by a stern moral lecture. The significance of inclusion of the story of Septimus and his suicide is by

chance, as Clarissa.

**Sally Setan and Peter Walsh:**

Sally Setan is contrasted with Clarissa and Lady RÃ¸sseter. As a girl she excited Clarissa and appalled her aunt with her unconventional behaviour. Unlike Clarissa, she is impulsive, care- free. abandoned, unconventional and sexual, as she is reckless, too. She is politically unconventional, and is a socialist. This may be understood, of course in one way, as her immaturity. However, she reappears transformed into a Lady Rosseter, a complacent, self-satisfied mother of five boys without radicalism or originality. She has married a millionaire and she sends her sons to Eton. She is thoroughly incorporated into the provincial industrial bourgeoisie.

Peter Walsh is contrasted with Richard Dalloway as Clarissa chooses between them. He is now fifty-two and life has been something of a failure. The flow in his character is that he has messed up things. He was expelled from Oxford University, he

failed to marry Clarissa, whom he loved and he married on impulse on the boat on way to India where he followed an astute, respectable but unspectacular career in Indian Civil Service. In spite of these defects, there is something undoubtedly attractive about him, making Sally Setan to befriend him. For he is not quite to what a man is expected to be in ruling class culture at that time.

He is septical about male virtues and official values. He has a gentleman's manners- attentiveness and courtesy to women and a certain gaiety. He is, unlike the selfconscious Richard Dalloway, openly unemotional. He is not the sort of man one had to respect. He does not have the strength to overcome his carnal desires. Clarissa is at one moment irritated by his silly unconventionality, his weakness and the most moment she feels that she would have enjoyed his gaiety if she married him. However, he does not tolerate the independence, which Clarissa needs and meets him through Sir William Bradshaw, who attends her party.

Another significant reason for Septimus's presence in the novel, is that Virginia Woolf presents him as a contrasting character. Clarissa's life has been lived under the shadow of her sister's death and Septimus's life has been interrupted by the death of Evans. They are both thinking a great deal about death on the day of the action of the novel, so they present interesting similarities and differences in their views and reactions to death and their different capacities for coping with it.

Clarissa and Septimus both manage to make sense of death, to find a way of thinking about it. When she was young, Clarissa thought up theories about death, which are remembered by Peter Walsh. Her theories about death do not seem to be very different from those she had as a young girl. As she walks towards Bond Street, she asks herself, "did it matter that she must inevitably cease completely or did it not become consoling to believe that death ended absolutely?" But she still believes that something still survives, spread out like a mist in the trees, touching even people she had never met. What matters to her most now is to maintain her courage in the face of death, not to be defeated by it.

Septimus has been broken by his experience of the war and of Evan's death. His restless creative mind searches for explanations and hunts for meanings, in the context of the horrors and monstrous waste of human life. He swings wildly from his glorious visions of the dead surviving in paradise to a state of utter despair. One moment he has a great revelation that there is no death, at another moment, he is without meaning. So, he is Clarissa's double. Clarissa suffers, like Septimius, from a tendency to sudden and

irrational panic and she knows that the distance that separates sanity from insanity is a narrow one. The closest Septimus comes to being Clarissa's double is in their common experiences of tranquility of release from pressure. Clarissa's moments of peace comes in the morning as she sits on her sofa mending her green dress. This shared vision suggests some kind of closeness or likeness between Clarissa and Septimus.

**The Narrative Technique (Spectrum of consciousness Technique)**

The interest in this novel, Mrs Dalloway is not in the stories, within it, but in the rendering of their subjective lives, their mental processes with which they react to events. As they move about London, meeting each other and performing their tasks, they are all living very shifting complex, subjective lives with streams of memories, fantasies, fears, excitements, fluctuating moods and transitory feelings. Thus, this novel employs the stream-of-consciousness method. Here, Virginia Woolf employs multiple points of view, as we come to know quite a lot about the main characters, about their lives and how they usually think and behave.

There is no single, objective and external point of view from which the whole truth about every character like Clarissa is dramatizes. We hear what Peter Walsh thinks about her, when they were young and he was in love with her. We also hear how he reacts to her now, at various points during the day. To this are added the reactions and interpretations of Sally Setan, Richard Dalloway and Miss Kilman. Mrs. Dalloway notices how she assembles herself into one single, definite person to appear in public; she uses her mirror in an effort to draw all time different parts together to make a coherent image of herself, though she thinks that, in reality this singleness, this definiteness and coherence are an illusion which is created by hiding away all the unacceptable sides of herself, her faults, her jealousies. In any case, as in the case of any character, we get a complex and rich image of diversity of qualities of their individual self.

**The Portrayal of the past:**

The past life and experiences of each of the characters still affect his or her present life. At the beginning of the novel, we immediately learn something about Mrs.Dalloway's past life. As soon as she sets off shopping, she has flashes of memory of the early morning air at Burton when she was young and she half remembers something what Peter Walsh had said. According to Virginia Woolf, she "digs out beauty as caves" behind her characters to evoke feelings of their humanity, humour, and depth.

These caves connect and each comes to day light. These caves.connect and each comes to daylight in the However, the story of Septimus is partial exception to this as his past story is narrated present moment. by a more traditional method. In any case, the past moments in the memory and consciousness of these characters may not always light up their present lives as they sometimes become a series of cross-roads at which one path was taken and others rejected, some possibilities kept alive and others eliminated. Virginia Woolf also employs the free indirect speech in which the characters describe others in the novel, in their own words.

**IRONY:**

In this novel, irony is used as a means of satirising the manners, attitudes and beliefs of many of the characters. Here irony plays a dominant role in satirising the decadent governing class in England at the time. Irony is found throughout this novel, but it is especially prominent whenever the narrator deals with Hugh Whitbread or Lady Burton, characters clearly presented as particularly laughable.

In this lesson, we have studied the intuitive mind and aspirations and emotional life of Mrs. Dalloway, in relation to her perception of other characters in the novel.

A Portrait of the Artist as a Young Man

Narrator The narrator is anonymous, and speaks with the same voice and tone that Stephen might.

**Point Of View** Although most of *A Portrait of the Artist as a Young Man* is in the third person, the point of view is Stephen's: as Stephen develops as a person, the language and perspective of the narration develop with him. We see everything in the manner in which he thinks and feels it. At the very end of the novel, there is a brief section in which the story is told through Stephen's diary entries. This section is in the first person.

**Major Conflict** Stephen struggles to decide whether he should be loyal to his family, his church, his nation, or his vocation as an artist.

**Rising Action**Stephen's encounters with prostitutes; his emotional reaction to Father Arnall's hellfire sermons; his temporary devotion to religious life; his realization that he must confront the decision of whether to center his life around religion or art

**Climax**Stephen's decision in Chapter 4 to reject the religious life in favor of the life of an artist

**Falling Action** Stephen's enrollment in University College, where he gradually forms his aesthetic theory; Stephen's distancing of himself from his family, church, and nation.

**Stephen Dedalus**

**James Joyce**, in full **James Augustine Aloysius Joyce**, (born February 2, 1882, Dublin, Ireland—died January 13, 1941, Zürich, Switzerland), Irish novelist noted for his experimental use of language and exploration of new literary methods in such large works of fiction as *Ulysses* (1922) and *Finnegans Wake* (1939).

**Early life**

Joyce, the eldest of 10 children in his family to survive infancy, was sent at age six to Clongowes Wood College, a Jesuit boarding school that has been described as “the Eton of Ireland.” But his father was not the man to stay affluent for long; he drank,

neglected his affairs, and borrowed money from his office, and his family sank deeper and deeper into poverty, the children becoming accustomed to conditions of increasing sordidness. Joyce did not return to Clongowes in 1891; instead he stayed at home for the next two years and tried to educate himself, asking his mother to check his work. In April 1893 he and his brother Stanislaus were admitted, without fees, to Belvedere College, a Jesuit grammar school in Dublin. Joyce did well there academically and was twice elected president of the Marian Society, a position virtually that of head boy. He left, however, under a cloud, as it was thought (correctly) that he had lost his Roman Catholic faith.

He entered University College, Dublin, which was then staffed by Jesuit priests. There he studied languages and reserved his energies for extracurricular activities, reading widely—particularly in books not recommended by the Jesuits—and taking an active part in the college's Literary and Historical Society. Greatly admiring Henrik Ibsen, he learned Dano-Norwegian to read the original and had an article, "Ibsen's New Drama"—a review of the play *When We Dead Awaken*—published in the London *Fortnightly Review* in 1900 just after his 18th birthday. This early success confirmed Joyce in his resolution to become a writer and persuaded his family, friends, and teachers that the resolution was justified. In October 1901 he published an essay, "The Day of the Rabblement," attacking the Irish Literary Theatre (later the Abbey Theatre, in Dublin) for catering to popular taste.

Joyce was leading a dissolute life at this time but worked sufficiently hard to pass his final examinations, matriculating with "second-class honours in Latin" and obtaining the degree of B.A. on October 31, 1902. Never did he relax his efforts to master the art of writing. He wrote verses and experimented with short prose passages that he called "epiphanies," a word that Joyce used to describe his accounts of moments when the real truth about some person or object was revealed. To support himself while writing, he decided to become a doctor, but, after attending a few lectures in Dublin, he borrowed what money he could and went to Paris, where he abandoned the idea of medical studies, wrote some book reviews, and studied in the Sainte-Geneviève Library.

**SUMMARY:**

*A Portrait of the Artist as a Young Man* tells the story of Stephen Dedalus, a boy growing up in Ireland at the end of the nineteenth century, as he gradually decides to cast off all his social, familial, and religious constraints to live a life devoted to the art

of writing. As a young boy, Stephen's Catholic faith and Irish nationality heavily influence him. He attends a strict religious boarding school called Clongowes Wood College. At first, Stephen is lonely and homesick at the school, but as time passes he finds his place among the other boys. He enjoys his visits home, even though family tensions run high after the death of the Irish political leader Charles Stewart Parnell. This sensitive subject becomes the topic of a furious, politically charged argument over the family's Christmas dinner.

Stephen's father, Simon, is inept with money, and the family sinks deeper and deeper into debt. After a summer spent in the company of his Uncle Charles, Stephen learns that the family cannot afford to send him back to Clongowes, and that they will instead move to Dublin. Stephen starts attending a prestigious day school called Belvedere, where he grows to excel as a writer and as an actor in the student theater. His first sexual experience, with a young Dublin prostitute, unleashes a storm of guilt and shame in Stephen, as he tries to reconcile his physical desires with the stern Catholic morality of his surroundings. For a while, he ignores his religious upbringing, throwing himself with debauched abandon into a variety of sins—masturbation, gluttony, and more visits to prostitutes, among others. Then, on a three-day religious retreat, Stephen hears a trio of fiery sermons about sin, judgment, and hell. Deeply shaken, the young man resolves to rededicate himself to a life of Christian piety.

Stephen begins attending Mass every day, becoming a model of Catholic piety, abstinence, and self-denial. His religious devotion is so pronounced that the director of his school asks him to consider entering the priesthood. After briefly considering the offer, Stephen realizes that the austerity of the priestly life is utterly incompatible with his love for sensual beauty. That day, Stephen learns from his sister that the family will be moving, once again for financial reasons. Anxiously awaiting news about his acceptance to the university, Stephen goes for a walk on the beach, where he observes a young girl wading in the tide. He is struck by her beauty, and realizes, in a moment of epiphany, that the love and desire of beauty should not be a source of shame. Stephen resolves to live his life to the fullest, and vows not to be constrained by the boundaries of his family, his nation, and his religion.

Stephen moves on to the university, where he develops a number of strong friendships, and is especially close with a young man named Cranly. In a series of conversations with his companions, Stephen works to formulate his theories about art.

While he is dependent on his friends as listeners, he is also determined to create an independent existence, liberated from the expectations of friends and family. He becomes more and more determined to free himself from all limiting pressures, and eventually decides to leave Ireland to escape them. Like his namesake, the mythical Daedalus, Stephen hopes to build himself wings on which he can fly above all obstacles and achieve a life as an artist.

**Characterization of *A Portrait of the Artist as a Young Man.***

**Stephen**

Stephen goes through long phases of hedonism and deep religiosity. He eventually adopts a philosophy of aestheticism, greatly valuing beauty and art. Stephen is essentially Joyce's alter ego, and many of the events of Stephen's life mirror events from Joyce's own youth.

**Simon Dedalus**

Stephen's father, an impoverished former medical student with a strong sense of Irish patriotism. Sentimental about his past, Simon Dedalus frequently reminisces about his youth.

**Mary Dedalus**

Stephen's mother and Simon Dedalus's wife. Mary is very religious, and argues with her son about attending religious services.

**The Dedalus Children**

Though his siblings do not play a major role in the novel, Stephen has several brothers and sisters, including Maurice, Katey, Maggie, and Boody.

**Emma Clery**

Stephen's beloved, the young girl to whom he is fiercely attracted over the course of many years. Stephen constructs Emma as an ideal of femininity, even though he does not know her well.

**Mr. John Casey**

Simon Dedalus's friend, who attends the Christmas dinner at which young Stephen is allowed to sit with the adults for the first time. Like Simon, Mr. Casey is a staunch

believer in Irish nationalism, and at the dinner he argues with Dante over the fate of Parnell.

**Harles Stewart Parnell**

An Irish political leader who is not an actual character in the novel, but whose death influences many of its characters. Parnell had powerfully led the Irish National Party until he was condemned for having an affair with a married woman.

Dante (Mrs. Riordan)

The extremely fervent and piously Catholic governess of the Dedalus children. Dante, whose real name is Mrs. Riordan, becomes involved in a long and unpleasant argument with Mr. Casey over the fate of Parnell during Christmas dinner.

Uncle Charles

Stephen's lively great uncle. Charles lives with Stephen's family. During the summer, the young Stephen enjoys taking long walks with his uncle and listening to Charles and Simon discuss the history of both Ireland and the Dedalus family.

**Eileen Vance**

A young girl who lives near Stephen when he is a young boy. When Stephen tells Dante that he wants to marry Eileen, Dante is enraged because Eileen is a Protestant.

**Father Conmee**

The rector at Clongowes Wood College, where Stephen attends school as a young boy.

**Father Dolan**

The cruel prefect of studies at Clongowes Wood College.

**Themes**

**The Development of Individual Consciousness**

Perhaps the most famous aspect of *A Portrait of the Artist as a Young Man* is Joyce's innovative use of stream of consciousness, a style in which the author directly transcribes the thoughts and sensations that go through a character's mind, rather than simply describing those sensations from the external standpoint of an observer. Joyce's use of stream of consciousness makes *A Portrait of the Artist as a Young Man* a story

of the development of Stephen's mind. In the first chapter, the very young Stephen is only capable of describing his world in simple words and phrases.

The sensations that he experiences are all jumbled together with a child's lack of attention to cause and effect. Later, when Stephen is a teenager obsessed with religion, he is able to think in a clearer, more adult manner. Paragraphs are more logically ordered than in the opening sections of the novel, and thoughts progress logically. Stephen's mind is more mature and he is now more coherently aware of his surroundings. Nonetheless, he still trusts blindly in the church, and his passionate emotions of guilt and religious ecstasy are so strong that they get in the way of rational thought. It is only in the final chapter, when Stephen is in the university, that he seems truly rational. By the end of the novel, Joyce renders a portrait of a mind that has achieved emotional, intellectual, and artistic adulthood.

The development of Stephen's consciousness in *A Portrait of the Artist as a Young Man* is particularly interesting because, insofar as Stephen is a portrait of Joyce himself, Stephen's development gives us insight into the development of a literary genius. Stephen's experiences hint at the influences that transformed Joyce himself into the great writer he is considered today: Stephen's obsession with language; his strained relations with religion, family, and culture; and his dedication to forging an aesthetic of his own mirror the ways in which Joyce related to the various tensions in his life during his formative years. In the last chapter of the novel, we also learn that genius, though in many ways a calling, also requires great work and considerable sacrifice. Watching Stephen's daily struggle to puzzle out his aesthetic philosophy, we get a sense of the great task that awaits him.

**The Pitfalls of Religious Extremism**

Brought up in a devout Catholic family, Stephen initially ascribes to an absolute belief in the morals of the church. As a teenager, this belief leads him to two opposite extremes, both of which are harmful. At first, he falls into the extreme of sin, repeatedly sleeping with prostitutes and deliberately turning his back on religion. Though Stephen sins willfully, he is always aware that he acts in violation of the church's rules. Then, when Father Arnall's speech prompts him to return to Catholicism, he bounces to the

other extreme, becoming a perfect, near fanatical model of religious devotion and obedience.

Eventually, however, Stephen realizes that both of these lifestyles the completely sinful and the completely devout—are extremes that have been false and harmful. He does not want to lead a completely debauched life, but also rejects austere Catholicism because he feels that it does not permit him the full experience of being human. Stephen ultimately reaches a decision to embrace life and celebrate humanity after seeing a young girl wading at a beach. To him, the girl is a symbol of pure goodness and of life lived to the fullest.

**The Role of the Artist**

*A Portrait of the Artist as a Young Man* explores what it means to become an artist. Stephen's decision at the end of the novel—to leave his family and friends behind and go into exile in order to become an artist—suggests that Joyce sees the artist as a necessarily isolated figure. In his decision, Stephen turns his back on his community, refusing to accept the constraints of political involvement, religious devotion, and family commitment that the community places on its members.

However, though the artist is an isolated figure, Stephen's ultimate goal is to give a voice to the very community that he is leaving. In the last few lines of the novel, Stephen expresses his desire to "forge in the smithy of my soul the uncreated conscience of my race." He recognizes that his community will always be a part of him, as it has created and shaped his identity. When he creatively expresses his own ideas, he will also convey the voice of his entire community. Even as Stephen turns his back on the traditional forms of participation and membership in a community, he envisions his writing as a service to the community.

**The Need for Irish Autonomy**

Despite his desire to steer clear of politics, Stephen constantly ponders Ireland's place in the world. He concludes that the Irish have always been a subservient people, allowing outsiders to control them. In his conversation with the dean of studies at the university, he realizes that even the language of the Irish people really belongs to the English. Stephen's perception of Ireland's subservience has two effects on his development as an artist.

First, it makes him determined to escape the bonds that his Irish ancestors have accepted. As we see in his conversation with Davin, Stephen feels an anxious need to emerge from his Irish heritage as his own person, free from the shackles that have traditionally confined his country: "Do you fancy I am going to pay in my own life and person debts they made?" Second, Stephen's perception makes him determined to use his art to reclaim autonomy for Ireland. Using the borrowed language of English, he plans to write in a style that will be both autonomous from England and true to the Irish people.

**Green and Maroon**

Stephen associates the colors green and maroon with his governess, Dante, and with two leaders of the Irish resistance, Charles Parnell and Michael Davitt. In a dream after Parnell's death, Stephen sees Dante dressed in green and maroon as the Irish people mourn their fallen leader. This vision indicates that Stephen associates the two colors with the way Irish politics are played out among the members of his own family.

**Emma**

Emma appears only in glimpses throughout most of Stephen's young life, and he never gets to know her as a person. Instead, she becomes a symbol of pure love, untainted by sexuality or reality. Stephen worships Emma as the ideal of feminine purity. When he goes through his devoutly religious phase, he imagines his reward for his piety as a union with Emma in heaven. It is only later, when he is at the university, that we finally see a real conversation between Stephen and Emma.

Stephen's diary entry regarding this conversation portrays Emma as a real, friendly, and somewhat ordinary girl, but certainly not the goddess Stephen earlier makes her out to be. This more balanced view of Emma mirrors Stephen's abandonment of the extremes of complete sin and complete devotion in favor of a middle path, the devotion to the appreciation of beauty.

# YOGI VEMANA UNIVERSITY,KADAPA
# DEPARTMENT OF ENGLISH
### M.A ENGLISH LITERATUREAND LANGUAGE
# SEMESTER - II
### ENGYVU204: ENGLISH LANGUAGE TEACHING
### FOUNDATION COURSE (A)
**With Effect From 2021-22(Under NEP 2020)**

## Program Educational Objectives (PEOs)

- Aware of the distinction between language acquisition and language learning
- Knowing about the problems of teaching English as a Second Langauge and gaining insights on current trends in ELT.
- Familiar about certain theories of language learning and methods of ELT.
- Gaining comprehension about approaches of Teaching LSRW skills, poetry and prose. .

**UNIT – I**

**A. Language Acquisition and Second Language Learning**
**Basic Principles of English Language Teaching**

**B. Problems of Teaching / Learning English as a Second Language in the Indian Context - Current Trends of Teaching English in India.**

**UNIT – II**

**A Teaching of English Language – Theories of Language Learning (Behavioural, Cognitive and Constructivist)**

**B. Concepts Methods – Direct, Grammar Translation – Bilingual – Post Methods -Desuggestopaedia - Communicative Language Teaching**

**UNIT – III**

**A. Teaching poetry & Prose from Language Perspective**

**B. Teaching LSRW Skills**

**UNIT – IV**

**A. Materials and Tools – Development of Sources for Teaching – News Papers**

**B. Advertisements – Magazines – Utility of Language Lab for Teaching and Learning of English.**

## Program Specific Outcomes (PSOs)

- Creates familiarity about the distinction between language acquisition and language learning.
- Familiarizes about the principles of ELT and current trends of Teaching and Learning.
- To provide understanding on important theories of language learning and methods of teaching English.

## Suggested Reading


- The Study of Language, George Yule, Cambridge University Press, VI edition 2017.
- Techniques and Principles of Language Teaching, Diane Larsen Freeman and Marti Anderson Publication 2013.
- Methods of Teaching English – N. Krishnaswamy and Lalitha Krishna Swamy, Macmillon Publishers 2014.
- Teaching and learning English M.cTickoo A Source Book for Teachers and Teacher Trainers, Oxford University Press, 2015.


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**UNIT-1:**

**Words commonly used in English language teaching**

Learner, course participant, learner centered, oriented, text, participative learning, task based learning, lesson plan, learning outcomes, teaching outcomes, content based teaching, content based learning, skill oriented teaching. Learninm evaluation, technique, theory, approach.

First language

Definition. The language is used most often and can speak fluently.

Richard nordquist- first language is ones native language.

The language learned by children and passed on from one generation to another.

The main language that people speak in a region or a country.

Second language

Any language i.e., learnt besides first language. Any language learned by a person after his her native language especially as a resident of the area where it is in general use.

Second language is a language widely used especially in educational govt. functions in a region where most of its speakers are non -native.

Second language learning. Learning a language i.e., not generally spoken in the surrounding community and its language setting.

Japanese students ina English class are learning English as a foreign language. If the same student were in a English class in another country where there is a linguistic variety, they will be learning English as a second language second language is mostly used generally to describe both situations. However, simply in both the cases the learners are trying to learn another language.

**Language acquisition and language learning.**

Acquisition is used to refer the gradual development of ability in a language by using it naturally in communicative situations with others who know the language acquire mean to get or gain.

Learning applies to a more conscious activity for the purpose of occumulating knowledge of the features of language such a s vocabulary and grammar typically in an institutional setting where as learning results in gaining of a skill besides knowledge of a particular thing.

**Requirements of language acquisition:**

First language acquisition takes place with remarkable place long before the child starts going to college he or she is an extremely sophisticated language user, operating a system of self-expression and communication that no other creature or computer comes close to matching out any instruction there is an innate predisposition in the child to acquire language. Inborn capacity is not enough and this capacity surfaces and gets strengthen by fulfilling certain requirements Interaction with language users and speakers.

It is important to create language using environment as linguistic culture is not generically inherited but something i.e., culturally transmitted

A child must be able to listen the language being used. If the child has hearing impairedness he or she can't acquire language further if parents are deaf and dumb and use sign language the child also starts using the language.

Biological schedule for language acquistion

Biological schedule is linked to the maturation of the infants brain. During acquisition of language in early stages the child is exposed to something caused care givers speech. It is characteristically simplified speech adopted by someone who spends a lot of time interacing with the youn child. The mother who is basically the care giver uses baby talk avoiding adult conversation.

**Characteristics of care giver speech:**

A care giver uses simple structure and mono syllabic words initially.

It is repetitive

It is child directed speech

The care giver may use strange and unheard words.

It becomes more and more elaborate as the child begins using more and more language.

First stage oooing and babbling

Cooing is low soft sound. The earleiest use of speech like sounds by the child has been described as cooin. Cooing is a delightful stage. The sound s produced by the child gives an impression that child is trying to express something. During first few months of life the child gradually becomes capable of producing vowel sounds and sequence of vowel like sounds. Sounds like \i\ \u\ in tgis stage are used gradually the child strats babbling. In babbling stage the child produces a combo of both vowel and consonant souns.

First few months \i\ \u\

Fifth month - \k\\g\

Sixth to eighth month – baba ga-ga -ga

Nineth – tenth months bab, dada, mamama

The child produces sonds during the first ten to eleven months before beginning tos ay actual wors ,if he observe keenly even in production of these sounds by child there is rhythm and intonation.

One word stage between twelve to eighteen months, the child begins to procude a variety of recognizable single unit utterences. This period is traditionally called one word stage.

Ex. Dog, cat, cup, fan, bed, cookie etc.

During this stage the child may start referring to things and connecting them to something.

For ex. By refering to an empty bed one may get the name of his her sister or brothe, in this stage the child may use oblique phase. This stage is also called hollophostic stage in this stage one may observe the child interacting more eagerly.

Two word stage: period between eighteen and twenty months may be considered as two word stage. During this period the child's vocabulary may exceed to fifty words. In certain children may rank between two hundred and three hundred words. By the time the child is two years old a variety of combo of words are used for example mommy eat, milk hot baby chair.

Cat bag

The child utters to communicate and in that process the child produces words and recikvesfeed back. The two word stage is very crucial as the words forms the basis for framing of sentences this two word stage is very crucial as the words forms the basis for framing of sentences. This two word stage largely depends on entertaining conversational partner and the principle care giver i.e., mother.

Between two and two half years old the child begins producing large no of utterances that could be classified as telegraphic speech or multi word speech. This telegraphic speech is characterized by a string of words, phrases or sentences such as daddy go by bike. All the shoe wet cat drink milk, interestingly, cut out any knowledge about the meaning of words the child starts structuring them. The words used are lexical morphemes. During this period the following aspects related to linguistic development of child can be observed.

Sentence building capacity of the child surfaces

The child gets the word order correctly

The child starts using no of dramatic inflections.

The child starts using no of dramatic inflections.

The child starts using simple prepositions such as in and on.

The age of two and half years vocabulary gets expanded and the hild gets closer to adult pronunciation.

Developing Morphology:

After two and half years of age the child goes beyond the telegraphic speech and starts using some inflectional morpheme. For example cat sitting, mom reading book.

During this stage one can observe the child using even plurals. Example chocolates, pens, etc. at the same time regard to adding os s to the noun. The child over generlises and starts adding s to almost every noun. Ex. Teeths, foots, mans. Further the child may use some strange words like goed, comed, wented. At the age of four the child works out which forms are regular, which forms are irregular. The child may use comes does, looks, has.

Developing syntax: the child in different stages demonstrates the ability to form sentences ina meaningful meanner. This ability is traced in three stages.

Between eighteen to twenty six months:

In this child one can identify the ability of child to question using expressions such as where, who the child tries to form questions.

Ex. Where cat go?

Who come?

In the next stage which tanges between twenty to thirty months the child frames more complex questions like why you smile? You want eat? What book name?

In the third stage of language acquisition the child starts using sentences with the subject verb order and slso starts framing questions the child gets closer to adult conversation and uses expressions such as can I have a piece of cake? Will you help me? During all the stages i.e., stage 1,2,3) one finds the child framing -ves.

Ex. Stage I: no fall, no still, here, no at all

Stage II: he no come here. I don’t want it that not daddy.

Stage III: he not taken it.

According to macniell, a famous exponent of language. It is useless if the mother or the care taker tries to correct or instruct the children. However mothers should converse c the child to facilitate gradual language acquisition.

Developing semantics:

During the acquisition process many children use their limited vocabulary to refer to a large numner of unrelate objects.

Ex. The child says bow sow to refer top a dos.

The child says meow, meow to refer to a cat.

This process of referring to unrelated objects is caused over extension. The most common pattern is for the child is to over extent the meaning of a bird on the basis of similarities of shape, sound and size and to the lesser extent the movemtn and texture. For ex. Ball , extended to round object including an apple, tomato, door knob, moon, lampshade. The semantic development in the childs use of words is usually a process of over extension initially followed by gradual process of nerving down the application of every term as more words are learned. During this stage i.e., when the child starts approaching the age of five. One finds the child identifying the anonymous relationships.

Ex. More less, befor, after, small big, tall, short, near, for.

Conclusion:

By the age of five the child has completed the greater part of the language acquisition process. Now the child is in good position to learn a second language . the following are some important features of the acquisition process.

No one dumps th mind of child c words and phrases.

The child's linguistic production appears to be mostly a matter of train out construction and texting them wether they work or not.

Despite the adult attempt to correct the child, the child uses a personally constructed form the child uses sound and word combination. Either in interaction c others or in word play alone.

Second language learning

The following are some of the influential and important factors for second language learning

1. Age: language acquisition takes place before five years but in the opinion of language experts the appropriate age to start learning second language ranges between ten to sixteen. Early teens are quicker and more effective learns of second language in the classroom.
2. Another important factor that influences second language learning is maturity of cognitive skills. Cognitive means connected to thinking. Conscious mental process is

invoved in second language learning. Teenagers are more self conscious than young children.

3. The element of unwillingness or embarrassment in at tempting to produce the sounds of different language.
4. Lack of empathy c other cultures may affect the learning process.
5. If one is stressed uncomfortable self conscious or unmotivated, learnin may not be productive.
6. Dull text books unpleasant class room exhaustive schedule of study or work may affect second language learning.

Another key factor which is quite crucial for second language learning is motivation. There are two types of motivation.

Instrumental motivation

Integrative motivation

Instrumental motivation: It is a motivation c a goal i.e., fulfilling the requirement for graduation. It is purely for a temporary gaining not aimed at true learning which results in accomplishing both knowledge and skill.

Integrative motivation: it is to learn in order to take part in the social life of that community where that language is used and to become an active member of that language speaking community. It enables the learner to gain both the knowledge and skill to use second language c ease and confidence. Motivation made me as result as much as cause. A successful learner is one who is willing to guess risk making mistakes and tries to communicate c others confidently.

Input output

The language that learner is exposed to is called input. For second language learning the input has to be comprehensible healthy, and continuous. This kind of exposure is crucial for language learning. Listening to language which is well used and correctly used lends sufficient expostre. Further reading literature available in second language learning listening and reading besides training in use of language constitute inputs. The output i.e., the capability of learner to use the second langugecorrectly contextually and fluently becomes evident from speaking and writing in second languge . the learner should experience the benefit of receiving input and producing output.

Barriers for listening:

Lack of motivation

Lack of right attitude

Lack of confidence:

Cultural barriers

Linguistic barriers

Eographical barriers

| Language acquisition | language learning |
|---|---|
| 1. Before five years | after five years |
| 2. Domestic environment | institutional environment |
| 3. Acquisition by imitation | learning by instruction |
| 4. Language speaking or using environment | input and output |
| 5. Active conversational partner | motivation integrative |
| 6. Only knowledge no skill | gaining of a skill besides knowledge |
| 7. Language is acquired by creating linguistic culture by | language learning is influenced by |
| matured cognitive skills | |
| 8. No one corrects the language of the child used | right kind of the exposure to well |
| and correctly used language is required. | |
| 9. Child is effective imitator of the language culture. | Teenagers are quicker learners of second language |

principles of elt

elt gained lot of importance in the light of globalization. Let witness numerous trends innovations, methodologies and paradigm during the last forudedcades and it is carried out meaningfully with the help of some guiding principles. H.W.S Brown a prof. from university of san Francisco put forth the following principles for effective ELt

road to fluency

the aim of English language ot enable the learner to use the language fluently. Fluency brings confidence and requires ease in expressing thoughts and ideas in second language. Teaching of English language should aim at making the learner expressive.

The second principle put forth by W.S. Brown is the principle of meaningful learning. It is achieved when teaching objectives are fulfilled and learning outcome are accomplishe. Learning of second language takes place in true sense. Soa s to enable the learner to gain both knowledge and skill.

Sense of proportion

Too much grammar explanations, abstract principles and theories and too many drills make the learning unfruitful and unproductive teaching should be qualitative not quantitative . all the activities in the class room meant for learning should be carried out in healthy preparations in order to generate interest among the learners.

The anticipation of reward.

In order to motivate the learners teachers can offer tangible or intangible rewads and in anticipationof those rewards learners of language shows keen interest and strat enjoying the activity of learning.

Invest time and effort

It is quite important to make sure that the learners invest sufficient time and put in right efforts for second language learning. At the same time teacher the proper planning and classroom management can genuinely made an effort to help the learners in gaining the fluency.

Language ego:

Learner should develop a new mode of thinking and feeling. i.e., the sense of ownership and of the teacher belongingness should be developed. The efforts of the teacher should aim at making the learners feel confident in using second language learning and take pride in their new possession i.e., second language.

Risk taking:

Always encourage the student try to learn and remedy their mistakes besides truly talking about their risky attempts.

Use of native language: will be highly significient system on which learners will rely to predict the target language.

According to Douglas Brown the aim of ELT should be building the required competence to use the language. C fluency. The word communicative competence was coined by a reknowned linguist called del hymes in 1966. According to him communicative competence is the general ability to use language accurately. Appropriately and flexibly. There are three types of competencies.

Grammatical competence

Soci linguistic competence

Strategic competence

Grammatical competence includes right use of word sand structures Socio linguistic competence ability to use appropriate language in social context using socially acceptable language as per the requirement and given context.

Strategic competence is once ability to organize a message effectively and compensate via sttatefies for overcoming the problems in communication.

Probles of teaching English as a second language

English today in india a peoples hopes for quality of education and participation in national and international level. Though English was introduced the schools are with

slfish motive promoting mere literacy in due course of time the exposure of English language became unavailable for the scientific technological and intellectual growth of country.

After independence india realized the importance of English teaching and learning in due course of time English language assumed the status of a global language and india started lending importance by implementing productive strategies accordance with the needs of the learner and job markets. However teaching English in india especially as a second language has certain phrase the content of teaching. Learning of English is unique and difference in india. The following are some of the significant problems with regard to teaching of English in Indian scenario.

Multi cultural and multi lingual contacts.

The distinguishing feature of india is unity in diversity.

Indian class room is hererogenous i.e., students from different linguistic background participate in learning each culture and language is unique. A teacher undre these circumstances finds difficult to fulfil the needs of the learners who come from different background.

It is difficult task for the teacher to pay attentionon the learners. Hence this digital divide is often a problem for teachers to use tools of technology for benefit of learners.

Conclusion:

Problems do exist with regard to teaching of English language as a second language in india. In order to over come the problems several steps have been taken by the government universities and research institutions. Institutions such as English and foreign language universities and regional institutes of English have been established to explore effective methods and strategies for the teaching and learning of English in a meaningful manner.

Earlier englishw as introduce at secondary level. Presently realized the importance of English so it is introduced at primary level of education. Further in university and colleges language labs have been established to promote the use of technology. It is nto so easy to resist mother tongue.

Urban and rural divide:

Another major problem for teaching English in india is th urban and rural divide.

Certain students who comes from cities and towns have some difference over the learnere who come from rural areas undre this situation. It is extremely difficult for the teacher to adopt a right method to satisfy the learner.

**Digital divide:**

Science and technology brought effective changes in teaching and learning processes with the help of digital technology learning and teaching have been introduced such methods are advantages for those o are aware of using technology. However in india the fruits of technology haven't yet reachd the remote parts of country.

Current trends of teaching English in india:

English language teaching in india witnessed numerous changes trends and innovations with adventof globalization and liberalization. English language gained the status of global language.

As a result the demand sof job market to focus on employability which include communication skills presently the fluecy and proficiency in English language are given importance. Developing the communicative abilities of learners who are job seekers before examining the current trends of teaching English in india. English is introduced at the second level of shchooling. Language learning then was through literature. A text book consisting pieces of prose poems, essays and short stories was prescribed for the learner of English so culture values expose them to healthy pure and creative language. As literature promotes creative and correct use of language learners were encouraged to study literature which in a way helps to better their language.

Gradually with needs and existing trends of teaching and learning there has been shift in the focus.

ELT in India witnessed significant changes which are as follows.

1. Earlier, the teahin was content based. Today the emphasis is on developing language skills i.e., LSRW. ELT today is skill oriente.
2. ELT today is primarily learner centered. Earlier it was teachers centered. The teacher was authority in class and prescribed text was every thing. Today the role of teacher is that of facilitator. Participative learning is encouraged by conducting group activities to make learning interesting. But today he or she is encouraged to learn at his \ her won space.
3. In india computer assisted language teaching calt and computer assisted language learning.

   Call have yielded fruitful result to add theoratical learning and also provide opportunities for the learner to use language effectively.

4. There are certain initiatives to teach English as a first language in india. It was recommended by the national knowledge commission in 2005.
5. Today instead of grammar and composition learners are exposed to email writings and preparation of C.V's.
6. Earlier the text book prescribed for the learner use to consist a lot of literature. Today the text book for the learners is designed keeping in view the current trends of developing language communication skills.

7. Today there is sufficient emphasis on teaching phonetics of English in order to create awareness and the sounds of language and neutralize their accents.
8. In addition to areas such as resume preparation c.v. wrting , email, and telephone manners, learners are exposed to activities such as group discussions, debates interview and public speaking.

   Further activities to improve their writng skills by introducing such as minutes writing agenda preparation and report writing are introduced.

   Conclusion:

   In tune with contemporary trends, the government policy makers and institutions of higher learning continue to innovate learner centered. Learner oriented by improving methods.

## Unit II

### Definition of approach and technique

Edward antony 1963 gave a clear cut distinction among the three terms which are widely used in the field of ELT.

Approach : it is a set of correlated assumptions dealin with the nature of language teaching and learning. An approach describes the nature of subject matte to be taughtin the class room subject matter to be taught in the class room. Any approach will have a theoretical basis and also it forms the basis for any methods.

**Method:**

Is aover all plan for the orderly presentation of language material . a method is more a procedural with in any approach there can be several methods. A method is always in tune with some approach or the other.

Technique : it is actual implementation of a method in a class room. It is a particular way of doing things to accomplish an immediate objective. The techniques that we use in the class room should be consistent with the method which in turn must be in harmony with an approach.

Theory comprises as et of staents or principles revised to explain a group of facts or phenomena especially that has been tested repeatedly or is widely accepted and can be used to make predictions about material phenomena.

It is an assumption based on limited information and abstract reasoning. Theory forms the basis to explain and prove the facts giving scope for useful and fruitful application of knowledge. at present there are three different theories of language learning which form the basis for teaching methods. Further for all the methods involved in ELT. Principles or views are crucial.

They are

structural view.

Functional view

Interactive view.

**Structural view:**

The structural view of language as a system of structurally related element to code meaning.

Functional view of language sees language as a vehicle to express or accomplish certain functions such as requesting and complaining.

Interactive view of language considers language as a important vehicle for creation and maintenance of social relations focusing on patterns of moves acts and negotiation found in conversational exchanges. Based onthese popular views psychologists developed theories of learning. Among the popular theories which surely bare relevances following theories are signigicant.

**Behavioural theory:**

In the 1950s social sciences were dominated by behaviourism. The school of behaviourism a school of thought which was popularized by john Watson and B.E.Skinner. they believed that words such as know think are unscientific in terms of language learning and also terms such as mind and innate are also discarded. In 1957 B.F. Skinner in his book verbal behaviour stated that language is learnt from behaviour and the basis for the conception is stimulus response learning. The crucial factors which influence behaviour are heredity and environment influenced by behaviourists psychology and structural linguistics a set of assumptions regarding language learninghave been formulated during 1950's and 60's.

**Language is a form of a behaviour:**

Language learningis a habit of acquiring habits

Habits gradually become part of behavior since behaviour can be conditioned language learning should follow the stimulus response reinforcemtn pattern, mimicry

menorisationdrilling in the class room. These activities help the learner to get exposure to Languageand make it a pattern of his behaviour

language is a skill subjects like maths,sciencewhich are content. Therefore the fours skills normally LSRW are to be developed in a sequential order.

Explicit grammar explanations are to be given since the language isnto a content subject.

Translation is to be avoided and the use of first language is nto allowed while teaching second language.

Emphasis is to be given by teaching. Structures and vocabulary in grading sequence.

**Cognitive theory:**

Th word cognititve means something connected to thinkin or conscious mental prosess, charts drawing, language ability is an instinctive tendency to acquire an art William james: humans have all the instincts that amimals do and many more.

Chomsky: human beings can create new comboof words every time we utter a sentence i.e., human brain has the ability to create unlimited no of sentences with in the frame work of limited reles. Children develop complex grammar rapidly with out formal instruction and grow uptogieinterpretaions of new sentences that they have never heard before.

Considering the above views language is partly behaviour and partly mental language learning has a complex design with many interesting facts combining difference tools from psychology, computer science linguistics philosophy and artificial intelligence a new a science caused cognitive has emerged. Cognitive science believes that the human cognitive skills are marvelous and intigate as far as language learning is concerned, the pioneers of cognitive science put forth following ideas.

Language learning is mor like writing a play not like actiginone.

Cognitive theory of learning sees second language acquisition as a conscious and reasoned thinking process involving the deliberate use of certain strategies i.e., learning by gathering, processing, retention information which help to improve learning and comprehension.

Cognitive theory says the trainer or teacher should create a sage environment by nourishing their curiosity and welcoming their ideas. According to cognitive theory second language learning is unconscious and automatic process.

**Constructivist theory:**

It has been developed on the basis of concept that learners aent a blank slate. It states that learners are active participants who construct learning y depending on their previous experience and poast knowledge. Gerom Burner a famous American psychologist stated that learning is an active process in which the learner constructs new ideas and concepts based on his current past knowledge. As far as he language is concerned. Constructivists proposed following.

Learning should be flexible and teacher should follow a spiral lesson plan.

Teacher only should be facilitator Students learns by doing.

Learning is neither teacher based not lecture based teache should encourage the learner to explore and enquire.

Learner should be allowed to think critically and analyse.

**Direct method:**

It has one basic rule indirect method no translationis allowed in fact the direct method receives its name from the fact that the meaning is to be conveyed in the target language through the use of demonstrations and visual aids with no recourse to the students by native language.

The following are the principles of dierectmethtod these principles are gien by H.E. Palmer.

All the class room transactions are to be given in target language.

In direct method only day today vocabulary, sentences are to be taught. Ex. It is nto beyond the possibility of individual who is well versed to understand grammar of language that be doesn't know. The teacher replied positive to a query posed y teacher working in same institution as to weather the metrological conditions were favourble to take the students for picnic. It is possible for a linguist to understand the grammar of her language.

The teadcher replied her colleague that the weather is unfavourable to take the students out for the picnic.

The teacher should demonstrate don't explain or translate.

According to principles of direct methtod the purpose of language lrarning is communication. The students should know how to question and answer them.

Grammar is to be taught inductively with the help of examples.

Correct pronunciation is to be used and emphasized

Self correction on the part of the learner should be encouraged.

Concrete vocabulary is to be taught with demonstration and abstract vocabulary through association of method.

| dont | do |
|---|---|
| Do not make a speech | Ask questions |
| Donot explain | Do demonstrate |
| Donot imitate mistakes | Correct the mistakes and encourage self correction |
| Do not use single words | Use sentences |
| Do not speak too much | Make the learner speak much |

| | |
|---|---|
| Do not use the book | Use lesson plan |
| Do not go too fast | Do keep pace with the learner |
| Do not speak slowly | Speak normally |
| Never be impatient | Demonstrate patience follow take it easy policy |

Learner should read out the sections of passage loudly reachersuse pictures, gestrues and other means to make the meaning of text clearly. Teacher uses only target language by totally avoiding first language.

Encourage the learners to think and communicate in English . the translations language for question and answers should be English. Grammar exercises practice is to be given first and then rules are tobe given dictation is given after listening process.

Vocabulary is emphasized over grammar.

The direct method is based on situations. Direct method recommends both oral and written testing

Oral communication is basic and pronunciation recives lot of emphasis.

Grammar translation method: this method was popularized by Franz ahn and HQ Ollendorft. The basis for GTM was the use of dictionaries for the interpretation of the text. The following are the features of GTM.

The fundamental purpose of learning a foreign language is to read the literature available in targe tlanguage.

The mother tongue of learner and target language is used. The teacher must know both language.

The focus is on text and the culture of target language is emphasized.

In GTM the spoken aspect is not stressed onlu reading aloud is encourage.

The resources of the first language are to be fully utilized for the purpose of providing the meanings.

Grammar rules are to be memorized.

In Grammar translation method writing and comprehension are taught and tested. Th

Through GTM expansionof vocabulary takeds place.

The teacher is the authority inc class room and his role is traditional.

Techniques used in GTM:

The text is translated from second language to first language.

Learners answer comprehension question tro understand the passage.

Learners are to be encouraged to identifu and explore the antonyms and synonyms of the word.

Grammar rules are to be taught and memorized

Learners are encouraged to learn second language but not how to use it.

The following are the shortcomings of GTM.

It is sentence based but not text.

Oral communication is neglected

There is excessive emphasis on rules

The method cant be used in multi lingual context

True translationis neglected

Class room is dull with out interaction

The method is teacher centrered not learner centered.

Bilingual method is an outcome of series of experiments conducting in bilingual teaching and learning environment during 1967 -72 by C.T. Dudson. B. M. aims at full language proficiency and more importantly seeks to make usage of best activities foun in toher languages and their methods in teaching. It stands out for its inclusiveness both its uses and realizes them. B.M prescribes the structure of lesson plan based on the product, process , concept and putsforth following features

Presentation

Practice

Product

The following are the features of B.M.

Imitation of basic foreign language sentences.

Interpretation of basic sentences through the teachers use of mother tongue stimuli to receive foreign language response.

Independent speaking of the sentences by learner.

Interpretation of questions mainly to acquire the learner question form independently.

Reverse interpretation: encourage the students to reponse in mother tongue for teachers foreign language. Giving enough practice for a forms.

Advantages: it is procedural

The step by step procedures involved mainly presentation, practice and reinforce the strength of learning.

Allows free usage of language for meaning making.

It encourages the text provided audio visual experience.

Learners potential to use mother tongue is also strengthen.

It aims at building full communicative abilities.

In bi lingual method first language is an important resource.

Desuggestopia:

Suggestopedia also known as desuggestopedia was advocated by a Bulgarian doctor and psychologist, georfilozanov. The learning method is based on principles of joy and easiness. It calls for the elimination of all affective and positive that impact learning and psychologically weaken he learners aptitude. Lazanov believes that the latent abilities of an individual remain unused on according of psychological barriers. This particular concept of learning endeavours to remove mental barriers and enable the learner to overcome fear. This method is used for adults.

Techniques used as a part of suggestopedia are:

Teachin aids which are relevant and which draw the curiosity and attention of the learner.

Posters

Charts

Music

Suggestopedia prescribes learner friendly environment which makes him\her feel secure and comfortable. The ambience of a classroom with bright lighting and convinent seating will create interest on the part of learner. The following are some of the activities relevant to suggestopedia method.

Learners listening to soothing music.

They close their eyes and seek relazation;

The dialogue is read by the teacher twice soft background music is played.

Students are encouraged to converse through dialogues and role plays are organized.

Target language is used for dialogues

Peer work method and pleasurable game principle are given importance.

Games related tolanguage are organized

Creative use of language is encouraged.

Communicative Language teaching: CLT

This method of teaching was developed by Charles A curran a prof. of psychology at loyala university Chicago. The following are certain assumptions of C.L.T.

Learners learn a language for using it to communicate.

Fluency is important dimension of communication not occuracy.

Authentic and meaningful communication should be in class room.

Learning is a process of creative construction.

Which involves frail and error.

Communication involves integration of all four skills.

Phases of CLT:

Designing syllabus to develop communicative competence.

Identifying learners need and developing need analysis.

Design calss room activities with an objective of communication skills. Activities such as information gap group work, task work charts can be used in the class room.

**Features:**

Meaning is important than structure. Develop semantics as a part of learning.

Learning should be in the form of dialogues which centers around communication.

Drilling should be encouraged but not mechanically.

Sense of native language is accepted'

Translation may be used where student need it.

In CLT teacher approach source of motivation

Text task based materials are to be developed.

CLT believes that teacher is councellor

Facilitator, advisor, manage an independent participant.

**Post methods:**

On account of shift in paradigms influencing English language teaching. Certain methods have become outdated without much relevance. According to Kumar vadivelu, an eminent language exponent, post method conditionis a result of th widespread dissatisfaction among the English language pracitioners which is caused by the conventional concept of method. Post methods came into existence to maxmise the learning opportunities and promote learner antonomy. How ever three popular views namely th structural view, the functional view and the interactive view form the basis for post methods. Further it has been felt that method lead to disempowerment of both teachers and learners contributing to dominance of society's power hodlers and the deskilling of teachers.

KumaruVadivelu prescribes the following principles for language teaching.

Paricularity:

The teachers should take into account local needs, constraits and culture. Role of context and setting is crucial

Practicality:

Teacher should judgementally draw a distraction between terory and practice. He \ she is not supposed to blindly follow the methods without practical approach

Possibility: teacher should explore the possibilities of exploring the socio political consciousness that learners bring with them and use it relevantly for language teaching and learning.

Post method is a judicious combination of both local and global and it is setting sensitive. Post method era calls for use of strategies to accomplish learner outcoems. Here are some of the micro strategies put forth by kumarvadivelu.

Maximise learning opportunities:

Facilitate negotiated interaction

Meaning based approach

Lexical based approach

Develop language awareness

Contextualize linguistic input

Promote learner antonomy

Ensure social relevance

Set language in its cultural context.

Use short cut methods and develop problem solving abilities.

At present, post methods are in vogue and are widely used in English pedagogy which primarily aims at developing communicative competence of the learner.

**Teaching Poetry**
**From Language perspective**

Poetry is the Apontaneous Overflow of powerful feelings; it takes its origin from emotion recollected in tranquility -**William Words Worth**

Coleridge defined Proge as words in their best order and Poetry as the best words in their best order.

Betry is a thing of beauty - beauty & language, form, thought and emotion. It is the aspect of language which fundamentally provides pleasure to the readers. It develops Sensitivity to language and literature. Poetry is for pleasure. It deepens Our Understanding and appreciation of beauty and of human experience. It lightens Sensitiveness to beauty, especially, beauty of language and of thought. It enlarges Sensibilities, our values and our imagination. Sometimes it takes us to Strange realms of experience and to great flights of imagination. It helps us to appreciate spiritual things of life. Our The words in a poem are also arranged that they give us pleasent Sound that as we may have from music. We derive pleasure from the words themselves and from their rhythm. arrangements. Rhyme is Rhythm is Universal phe ever there is movement. The regular rhy.where of Poetry appeals to the children and they develop liking for it.

**Teaching Poerty:**

Poetry is Original form of English literature. Each poem is unit by itself and attempt to analyse it destroys its beauty. The Gezoyment and appreciation of Poetry Should begin in the mother-tongue. If Pocky is enjoyed in the first language English poetry is sure to be enjoyed. Infortunately our Children are not encouraged to develop appreciation for Poetry in their own mother-tongue either due to faulty methods of teaching of due to their way of learning them in view of the examinations. Mathew Arnold remarked "Poetry is the Criticism of life. Poetry deepens pupil's Understanding of life in its varied shades and Colours. Though poems dealing with love, death, the pathoes and the tragedy of life etc there are Objectives of the Poetry:

The Objectives of the teaching Poetry Somewhat different from teaching Prose.

**Teaching Prose from Language Perspective:**

*Introduction:*

English being a foreign language, mostly, the Studeg do not take Keen interest in the Study of English. Hence the teacher has attract the students towards his lesson: Material Aids Previous Knowledge

**Statement of Aim.**

Objectives of teaching Prose lesson:

To develop the language ability of the Students

To enable the Sondents to cenderstand the Passage and grasp it's meaning.

To enable the Sindents to Lenderstand the Passage by silent reading.

To develop the imagination power of the Students. To enable the Students to enjoy reading & writing.

To enrich their active & Passive Vocabulary. To enable the Sondents to express the ideas of the passage orally as als in writing. To enable the Students to read English passage loudly with Correct Pronounciation, Stress, intonation, Pause and articulation of voice.

4. Steps for teaching a prose lesson: *Model Reading by the Teacher Exposur. The teacher should read the lesson is such way that the Students are all racted towards

He should give due importance to the punctuations. While reading the lesson he should take care whether the boys are hearing the lesson to kom attentively or not. *Pronunciation Drill:

The knowledge of the Spelling and Pronunciation of difficult words in essential for the Students. So the teacher should attract the minds of the Students, towards the Spelling and pronunciation by writing every on the black board and by himself giring a Correct model of panunciation for Students to listen to him. and to imitate him.

difficult word

**Reading aloud by the Students:**

If the teacher is Satisfied with the Student's Spelling and pronunciation of the difficult words he should ask them to read the lesson loudy.

He shoud keep in the mind that Students Shoud hold the book with their lefthand and put their finger on each and everyword. The book shoud be at about One foot distance from the eye of the Students. *Explanation:

**Composition**

While explaining the lesson to the Students, all the methods, Elicitation Method, Translation Method, Method, Should be adopted. All these methods have their own importance. In the lower Classes Derivation Method is Useless.

5. In teaching Poetry, we focus on the following? Exposure to and familiarization with Poetic termindegy and devices. Development of the skills necessary to enguage with a poem's Components and thus Come to an initial and then refined Understanding of the meaning of that Poem.

Drafting and revision of the Original works of Poetry, followed by appropriate written reflecting Process and Culminating as a Medium to establish broad tone and meaning in at least two poems.

**On the Creative**

Independent, Careful reading and reflection on a broad selection Poems.

* Creation of their meaning to show each Student's Cenderstanding of the reading. Understanding, writing and revision Process behind poetry and its meaning Principles of teaching Poetsing:

* Teach poetry to give pleasure rather than Versification.

* Effective reading and re-reading of the Poem by the teacher is essential to make Pupils to Catch the beauty of the sounds of Poetry. This will Kindle interest. The manner Meaning of reading may also make the Silent reading.

In the Stude classes. clear without explanation Sometimes.

* Avoid detailed explanation of the languaget elements of the poem. Let the Poem make own impact by its rhyme, rhythm and alliteration, especially in the beginning

* As far as possible, do not discuss the peculair language features in the poem. This will reduce the pleasure of Poetry.

*Teach poem as a poem by itselt. Avoid asking the pupil to restate poetry in prose order.

The teacher should feel and live the poem. This will make peem in teaching effective and impressive. But be sure that between the pupil and Poem.

You do not stand a Poem Should be approached as a total work of art, total picture of be presented first and then the details Contributing to its Conily examined.

* The teacher Can make apt and suitable Comparisons with Similar mother-tongue verses with Indian Situations which help papils Comprehend the poem more cleary, Stages of Teaching the in the Class-9oom: *Introducing the poem:

The teacher has to introduce the poem briefly by referring to its title, author and a short accocent of the Central idea of the poem. This creates interest among the pupils and prepares them to pay

*7.* Silent reading by the Students:

In the explanation work, the attention. of Students is diverted from the main lesson and so after this work, they should again be asked to the lesson silently, and find out if they have learnt it fully.

*** Comprehension:**

The teacher Should encourage the Students to Put him questions in order to know whether they have Cenderstood them lesson or not. The teacher May ask the meaning of a particular word or to explain a particular paragraph.

***Recapitulation**

It is also essential part of the teaching of English Proße. In most of the teaching thistitutions, the only device for the recapituation is the questions. But only questions will not serve the purpose.

**Black-board work:**

It is already mentioned that the teachers Should write the spelling and transcription of the difficult words on the black-board, while Assingment: Presenting the lesson.

In the teaching of English assignment essential related to the lesson taught is very homework Students should be assigned the home wirk Connected with the lesson so that they may not forget whatever they have learnt at the school.

8. Factors that are to be considered in exploiting Linguistic Complexity:

*Explanation of  The teacher

If a text is full of difficult words and tool. it Can be dplit into two or more parts. A simple text is more suitable for listening Comprehension that on which is full of difficult words or which has too Length many long Sentences. reading passage should not be too long or too easy; the length of the text should be seitable for a lesson. Students need not understand every single in the text in order to understand it.

**Interest level:**

*If* a word Passage is full of interest, the linguistic Complexity on the length may not even matter much. Text books that have long but very interesting Stories are read by Students even without much help in

**Aims:**

The teachers must be clear about the aim of teaching a particular text. It The teacher must have a mental plan about the purpose for which the Passage is to be Used.

**Major steps in teaching Prose:**

major Steps: Introduction and task Setting @ Reading & Listening • Exploiting the text orally and in Writing & Writing and going beyond the textor

9. Explanation the words:

The teacher has to suggest the meanings of the new words. in their Context directly. Equivalent May be Even Mother- longue given. But exercises for usage of the words should be avoided.

***Reading aloud by the teacher:**

The teacher has to read or recite the poem aloud to the class. A good reading with Proper pronunciation intonation and modulation will explain the Poem itself. A person well head, has diready been taught well. Reading by the pupils:

pupil may read the poem aloud imitating the teacher in chorus first and induvidually later.

**Testing pupil's Communication:**

The teacher puts questions to know how for the pupils have understood the main idea of the poem. He has to explain and illustrate further difficulties while going from Stanza to staze keeping Stage keeping the unity of the poem cendisturbed.

*** Reading the poem by the teacher again:**

Again and points out the He reads the poem once" rhyming words and alliteration in the lines.

* Reading the Poem aloud by the pupils: He asks the people to read the polem aloud. * **Helping Appreciation:**

The teacher allows peepils to discuss the poem as freely as possible. He Can encotrage to give Suggestions. * Reviewing the Poem:

He puts Some recapitulatory questions to review the prem

**10 Classroom Situation for Teaching Poetry:**

Each Class does have some activities. Here, * Read Poems in class that students will thoroughly enjoy. I have some good result in in this area. * Encourage students to read poetry loudly and recite it from memory. Students need to practice their reading and performance Skils.

* Close attention to the meaning of Poems. I addition, ask the students to tell you the story behind the Poem. let the students take a poem and Confidence *it in to a* tune.

**Suggestions for helping pupils to empy Poetry: Story**.

The teacher can ask pupils to read or recete poem with Thyme and rhythm either in groups one to Chorus, Sometimes he can attempt to sing it with a * He Can follow line

aside method in which pupil reads a line after another briskly keeping Why themie beat a Continuous

* He Can make use of dialogue as per its *in the poem.* possibility

* He Can bring in large variety of audio-visual

aids to Stimulates Sindels interest.

11 Introduction and task Setting:

This Steps is for the Must be a

arousal of interest. There reason for listening or reading a Passage.

To do this, the teacher can art bome guiding questions; the guiding questions are meant for motivate the Students and not for teaching them words or Structures. @ Reading and **12. Teaching: reading Good listen**

The second step is that of reading & listening. Students should no be asked to read texts aloud. The model. It is better to ask teacher must read the text aloud and offer a Speech model or a the Students not to look at the text so that they Carefully. The teacher Can make any necessary sketch on the black board while reading, break Sentences or rephrase the reading sound authentic or Spontaneous. difficult areas and make exploiting the text orally and in writing: and Sometimes The activities listed below can be used to exploit the text, Sometimes with the text open Reproduction:

Wh-questions that are the text closed. Generally used to test one's Comprehension of the text are best suited to judge the depth of understanding.

**Limited response:**

Choice questions Can be used to Check Sindent's True or False Statements, Yes or de no questions

X Understanding of the meaning of words and phrases.

12 Grammar awareness: One or two questions on any gramatical nisettyin the passage Aan be pointed out.

**C Scanning:**

Students can be asked to quickly pointed out Some date or Some other detail in the text. This will anable them to scan the text.

**Discussion:**

Argument and debate about the point of view Presented in the text can make the lesson lively. Writing and going beyond the text. :

**Writing:** The review of the passage is written in the form of a paraphrase; Students can take turns and Contribute be guided writing ideas and sentences. It may Communication, or free Composition.

The teacher encourages the class to be adventurous with the language, extending the text outside its limits. Dramatisation, Presentation of other points of view, Changing the mode of narration, presenting the text in graphic representations and, such offer activities Canbe attempted.

## UNIT IV

### Material and tools for language teaching:

Anything that facilitates learning either in classroom or through self direction. Materials include things needed and used for teaching and also conduct an activity in class room. Brown defines material in the following manner. Any systematic descriptions that be used to teach in class room. In the material designed today methodology is present.

The Tools: the following are some of the teaching aids

1) Pictures: they are inviable aid in teaching English. English teacher should make an effort to collect pictures and make album for the use of children.
2) Advertaisement, photographs that appear innews paper and magazines can be collected with the help of students.

Even in high classes, scriptures can be used. Models of household articles of natural objects can be used convey the meaning. Students can be encouraged to create models by using cost effective material.

**Charts and maps:**

The teacher can prepare of use maps available inmarket. Better the qualityof teaching and also understanding the learner.

Flash cards \word\ sentence cards: the cards can be used to match pictures. Flash cards can be made easily even by using old papers, as long as one side of the papert is clear. A simple picture on a piece of paper is used for regular use in the class.

Framel boards can be used along with flash cards. The boards are useful in picture composition and the words or sentences can be flashed on boards. Cards without pictures can be used in early stages for word recognition with the help of word cards, gigsaw puzzles can be prepared.

Puppets can be used for teachilng English particularly at early stages glove puppets can be made, finger puppets ae small , head and shoulders puppets of human, amimals fitted together two or more by means of alooped string. These puppets are very effective in teaching English.

**News Papers and advertisements:**

In ELT papers are rich resource for enrichment of language sills. However it all depends on resourceful and curious teacher to exploit and explore the multiple advantages that they offer

Preparation on the part of the teacher

Resourcefulness: teacher should be resource enough touse news paper and the benefits that it give in terms of language enrichment.

In gnity: the teacher should display his cleverness for the judicious use of news paper in language class room.

Innovativeness:

Imaginative ability and resourcefulness of the teacher. Ability to discover linguistic and thematic relatedness.

Newspapers, ads, magazines helps

To teach grammar

To develop creative and imaginative ability

To develop presentation skills

To develop vocabulary

To inculcate writing skills

To create awareness about writing reports.

They have lot of utility value and use of those material in the class room will certainly help the learners. The following factors make them valuable resources they are cheap in terms of cost

The are widely available and authentic in terms of linguistic correctness

They provide a variety of text in the form of stories. Articles, cultural, artists, political aspects.

They are interesting relevant, topical and informative.

They offer possibilities to generate number of language activities.

News papers can be used keeping in view the learner centeredness.

Using of technology for teaching English:

The use of technology in language learning started during half of twentieth century. English teachers started bringing sounds and sights to enrich the language experience. In the beginning radi was widely used as it provided an opportunity to listen correct accent and improve pronunciation. Subsequently audo visual aids were put to use to teach different topics related to language skills. Video texts were used toenable the user to locate specific frames by playing and replaying. Films were screened in class rooms by using VCR, OHP transparent slides were screened to explain topics from grammar and text which help in language learning. With the advent of computer ELT and learning have become more effective. Computer aided language lan have established to strengthen and supplement. Theoretical learning and provide opportunities for learner to use language onhis own and to improve his language using abilities. Most advanced digital equipment and languge software is presently available in many educational institutions. Language lab is of two types

1) Language lab : in this acivitiespertaing to listening and reading are conducted with the help of available software undre the guidance of language teachers. Learners get enough practice of Listening and Reading to develop their accent and comprehension. Where as in common lab productive skills namely speaking and writing receive attention. Learners gain exposure and ecperience by participating in group dicussions, debates, jam, role play besides getting exposure to mechanics of writing by attempting report, letter writing, resume preparation and agenda, email. Computer aided language land offer the following benefits.
2) Individualisationof learning
3) Learner autonomy
4) Use friendly and customized software

5) Teaching and testing with the help of software.
6) Working through language exercises according to ones convinence, pace
7) Easy editing
8) Recording of sound and speeches provides platform for enrichement of presentation skills.
9) Providing enhancement of digital skills.

Technology has enormous potential to enhance language teaching and learning process. However the role of capable teacher can't be ignored wisdom lies in careful, purposeful use of technology.

# YOGI VEMANA UNIVERSITY,KADAPA

## DEPARTMENT OF ENGLISH
## M.A ENGLISH LITERATUREAND LANGUAGE

## SEMESTER - II

## ENGYVU 205 COMMUNICATION AND SOFTSKILLS – I

## INTERNAL ELECTIVE (B)

**With Effect From 2021-22(Under NEP 2020)**

## Program Educational Objectives (PEOs)

- Students will be able to understand the research methods associated with the study of human communication, and apply at least one of those approaches to the analysis and evaluation of human communication.
- Students will be able to find, use, and evaluate primary academic writing associated with the communication discipline.

**UNIT I.**

**Communication :** **A.a. Aspects of Communication**
**b. Types of Communication**
**c. Verbal and Non-verbal Communication**
**B.a. Characteristics of Successful Communication**
**b Principles and Barriers of Communication**

**UNIT II .**

**Listening :** **A.a. The Listening Process** **b. Types of Listening**
**B.a. Principles of Good Listening** **b. Listening with a purpose**
**c. Barriers to Listening**

**UNIT III**

**Speaking:** **A. a. Factors of Speech Process** **b. Conversation Skills**
**c. Strategies of Good Conversation**
**B. a. Improving Self Expression & Fluency** **b. English Pronunciation**
**c. Speech Techniques**

**UNIT IV**

**Writing:** **A. a. Principles of Effective Writing**
**b. Formal and Informal Letter Writing**
**B. a. E-mail** **b. Resume & Job application**

## Program Specific Outcomes (PSOs)

- Students will develop knowledge, skills, and judgment around human communication that facilitate their ability to work collaboratively with others. Such skills could include communication competencies such as managing conflict, understanding small group processes, active listening, appropriate self-disclosure, etc.

## Suggested Reading:


- Essentials of Business Communication by RajendraRao
- Business Correspondence and Report Writing R.C. Sharma Krishna Mohan
- The Oxford Guide to Writing and Speaking by John Seely, (Oxford)


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# COMMUNICATION AND SOFTSKILLS-1
# INTERNAL ELECTIVE (B)

## Unit: 1.
## Communication

**Types of Communication:**

In preparing for my Fall course: *Communications for Professionals*, I've been thinking more and more about the different types of communication. In previous years, I have outlined four types of communication, but I believe there are actually five types of communication: verbal, non-verbal, written, listening, and visual.

### VERBAL COMMUNICATION

Verbal communication occurs when we engage in speaking with others. It can be face-to-face, over the telephone, via Skype or Zoom, etc. Some verbal engagements are informal, such as chatting with a friend over coffee or in the office kitchen, while others are more formal, such as a scheduled meeting. Regardless of the type, it is not just about the words, it is also about the caliber and complexity of those words, how we string those words together to create an overarching message, as well as the intonation (pitch, tone, cadence, etc.) used while speaking. And when occurring face-to-face, while the words are important, they cannot be separated from non-verbal communication.

### NON-VERBAL COMMUNICATION

What we do while we speak often says more than the actual words. Non-verbal communication includes facial expressions, posture, eye contact, hand movements, and touch. For example, if you're engaged in a conversation with your boss about your cost-saving idea, it is importants to pay attention to both the their words and their non-verbal communication. Your boss might be in agreement with your idea verbally, but their nonverbal cues: avoiding eye contact, sighing, scrunched up face, etc. indicate something different.

### WRITTEN COMMUNICATION

Whether it is an email, a memo, a report, a Face book post, a Tweet, a contract, etc. all forms of written communication have the same goal to disseminate information in a clear and concise manner – though that objective is often not achieved. In fact, poor writing skills often lead to confusion and embarrassment, and even potential legal jeopardy. One important thing to remember about written communication, especially in the digital age, is the message lives on, perhaps in perpetuity. Thus, there are two things

to remember: first, write well – poorly constructed sentences and careless errors make you look bad; and second, ensure the content of the message is something you want to promote or be associated with for the long haul.

## LISTENING

The act of listening does not often make its way onto the list of types of communication. Active listening, however, is perhaps one of the most important types of communication because if we cannot listen to the person sitting across from us, we cannot effectively engage with them. Think about a negotiation – part of the process is to assess what the opposition wants and needs. Without listening, it is impossible to assess that, which makes it difficult to achieve a win/win outcome.

## VISUAL COMMUNICATION

We are a visual society. Think about it, televisions are running 24/7, Facebook is visual with memes, videos, images, etc., Instagram is an image-only platform, and advertisers use imagery to sell products and ideas. Think about from a personal perspective – the images we post on social media are meant to convey meaning – to communicate a message. In some cases that message might be, look at me, I'm in Italy or I just won an award. Others are carefully curated to tug on our heartstrings – injured animals, crying children, etc.

We communicate continually throughout each and every day. We do it without thinking – we operate on communication autopilot. However, I encourage you to think about how you communicate. How do you communicate verbally? What nonverbal cues do you use when you are disinterested? Excited? Nervous? Are you a good listener? Can you write a concise, clearly articulated message? Are there barriers to how you communicate effectively?

Understanding how you communicate is the first step to communicating more effectively. You can easily look online for communication courses.

## B. characteristics of Successful Communication

### The 7 Cs of Communication

With people during the day. You write emails, facilitate meetings, participate in conference calls, create reports, devise presentations, debate with your colleagues… the list goes on. We can spend almost our entire day communicating. So, it stands to reason that communicating clearly and effectively can boost productivity.

This is why the 7 Cs of Communication are helpful. The 7 Cs provide a checklist for making sure that your meetings, emails, conference calls, reports, and presentations are well constructed and clear – so your audience gets your message. In this article and in the video, below, we'll look at each of the 7 Cs of Communication, and illustrate each element with both good and bad examples.

According to the 7 Cs, communication needs to be:

1. Clear.
2. Concise.
3. Concrete.
4. Correct.
5. Coherent.
6. Complete.
7. Courteous.

**1. Clear**

When writing or speaking to someone, be clear about your goal or message. What is your purpose in communicating with this person? If you're not sure, then your audience won't be either.

To be clear, try to minimize the number of ideas in each sentence. Make sure that it's easy for your reader to understand your meaning. People shouldn't have to "read between the lines" and make assumptions on their own to understand what you're trying to say. What is this email about? Well, we're not sure. First, if there are multiple Daniels in John's department, John won't know who Skip is talking about. Next, what is Daniel doing, specifically, that's so great? We don't know that either. It's so vague, that John will definitely have to write back for more information.

Last, what is the purpose of this email? Does Skip simply want to have an idle chat about Daniel or is there some more specific goal here? There's no sense of purpose to this message, so it's a bit confusing.

Example

I wanted to write you a quick note about Daniel Kedar, who's working in your department. In recent weeks, he's helped the IT department through several pressing deadlines on his own time. We've got a tough upgrade project due to run over the next three months, and his knowledge and skills would prove invaluable. Could we please have his help with this work?

I'd appreciate speaking with you about this. When is it best to call you to discuss this further? This second message is much clearer because the reader has the information he needs to take action.

**2. Concise**

When you're concise in your communication, you stick to the point and keep it brief. Your audience doesn't want to read six sentences when you could communicate your message in three. Ask yourself:

- Are there any adjectives or "filler words" that you can delete? You can often eliminate words like "for instance," "you see," "definitely," "kind of," "literally," "basically," or "I mean."
- Are there any unnecessary sentences?
- Have you repeated the point several times, in different ways?

I wanted to touch base with you about the email marketing campaign we kind of sketched out last Thursday. I really think that our target market is definitely going to want to see the company's philanthropic efforts. I think that could make a big impact, and it would stay in their minds longer than a sales pitch.

For instance, if we talk about the company's efforts to become sustainable, as well as the charity work we're doing in local schools, then the people that we want to attract are going to remember our message longer. The impact will just be greater.

This email is too long! There's repetition, and there's plenty of "filler" taking up space.

***Example***

I wanted to quickly discuss the email marketing campaign that we analyzed last Thursday. Our target market will want to know about the company's philanthropic efforts, especially our goals to become sustainable and help local schools. This would make a far greater impact, and it would stay in their minds longer than a traditional sales pitch.

**3. Concrete**

When your message is concrete, your audience has a clear picture of what you're telling them. There are details (but not too many!) and vivid facts, and there's laser-like focus. Your message is solid.

A statement like this probably won't sell many of these products. There's no passion, no vivid detail, nothing that creates emotion, and nothing that tells

people in the audience why they should care. This message isn't concrete enough to make a difference.

***Example***

How much time do you spend every day packing your kids' lunches? No more! Just take a complete Lunchbox Wizard from your refrigerator each day to give your kids a healthy lunch **and** have more time to play or read with them!

This copy is better because there are vivid images. The audience can picture spending quality time with their kids – and what parent could argue with that? And mentioning that the product is stored in the refrigerator explains how the product is also practical. The message has come alive through these details.

**4. Correct**

When your communication is correct, your audience will be able to understand it. And correct communication is also error-free communication. Make sure your message is correct by asking yourself the following questions:

- Do the technical terms you use fit your audience's level of education or knowledge?
- Have you checked your writing for grammatical errors? (Remember, spell checkers won't catch everything).
- Are all names and titles spelled correctly?

Thanks so much for meeting me at lunch today! I enjoyed our conservation, and I'm looking forward to moving ahead on our project. I'm sure that the two-weak deadline won't be an issue.

If you read that example fast, then you might not have caught any errors. But on closer inspection, you'll find two. Can you see them? The first error is that the writer accidentally typed conservation instead of conversation. This common error can happen when you're typing too fast. The other error is using weak instead of week. Again, spell checkers won't catch word errors like this, which is why it's so important to proofread everything!

**5. Coherent**

When your communication is coherent, it's logical. All points are connected and relevant to the main topic, and the tone and flow of the text is consistent.

I wanted to write you a quick note about the report you finished last week. I gave it to Michelle to proof, and she wanted to make sure you knew about the department

meeting we're having this Friday. We'll be creating an outline for the new employee handbook.

As you can see, this email doesn't communicate its point very well. Where is Michelle's feedback on Traci's report? She started to mention it, but then she changed the topic to Friday's meeting.

***Example***

I wanted to write you a quick note about the report you finished last week. I gave it to Michelle to proof, and she let me know that there are a few changes that you'll need to make. She'll email you her detailed comments later this afternoon.

Notice that in the good example, Michelle does not mention Friday's meeting. This is because the meeting reminder should be an entirely separate email. This way, Traci can delete the report feedback email after she makes her changes, but save the email about the meeting as her reminder to attend. Each email has only one main topic.

**6. Complete**

In a complete message, the audience has everything they need to be informed and, if applicable, take action.

- Does your message include a "call to action," so that your audience clearly knows what you want them to do?
- Have you included all relevant information – contact names, dates, times, locations, and so on?

I just wanted to send you all a reminder about the meeting we're having tomorrow!

This message is not complete, for obvious reasons. What meeting? When is it? Where? Chris has left his team without the necessary information.

***Example***

I just wanted to remind you about tomorrow's meeting on the new telecommuting policies. The meeting will be at 10 a.m. in the second-level conference room. Please let me know if you can't attend.

**7. Courteous**

Courteous communication is friendly, open and honest. There are no hidden insults or passive-aggressive tones. You keep your reader's viewpoint in mind, and you're empathetic to their needs.

## B). Principles of communication

The principles of communication are no more than tips on achieving mutual understanding, of which there are too many to count. Remote teams may have to employ some different methods, but the end goal is always the same.

With this in mind, this blog post aims to establish the definitive 10 principles of communication remote teams should follow by leveraging our considerable experience with this topic. But first, let’s take a look at some of the reasons why communication doesn’t always end in mutual understanding.

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**Conclusion**

Despite our assumption that what we say is exactly how people understand us, various communication barriers stand in the way of effective communication. Remote teams suffer from highly pronounced physical barriers, but they are not immune to any others. And given that many remote teams function on an asynchronous schedule, with employees possibly scattered across the world, language barriers and cultural barriers are also likely to cause some issues here. Unfortunately, this blog post won't deal with the latter two barriers specifically. For that, you should check out our tips on perfecting cross-cultural communication.

Instead, what follows will be a checklist of 10 generalized communication principles that can help remote teams facilitate effective communication.

The 10 principles of communication

Understanding that the principles of communication have not been conveniently pre-packaged by academic journals — least of all the principles of communication for remote teams specifically — we offer our own 10 tips for improving the success rate of striking mutual understanding in this working environment.

**1. Principle of concept**

*PREPARE AHEAD OF TIME*

One of the upsides of working in remote teams is that you generally have enough time to prepare for communication before engaging in it. Research suggests that remote team

communication is most effective when organized in rapid bursts, which are then followed by long periods of uninterrupted, or deep work. This, along with the study results that show video meeting fatigue sets in very quickly, means that remote workers need to have a more thoughtful approach to communication so as to reach a mutual understanding before meeting fatigue kicks in.

This is why we advocate the principle of concept as the first principle of communication remote teams should follow — and here's how it goes.

Make sure that you are prepared by outlining exactly what it is you wish to communicate. If your presentation follows a certain outline and several people are following it, consider sharing the outline with them to give them a point of reference that will help them stay on track and follow you. This has the added benefit of preventing you from splitting into unnecessary tangents. But even the very act of articulating your goal to yourself can do a lot to help steer communication in the right direction.

**2. Principle of clarity**

*AVOID BUSINESS JARGON*

The principle of clarity is arguably the most important of the 10 principles. And unlike some others, we have complete control over it. We alone are responsible for the way we phrase our utterances. If we're mindful of our goal (mutual understanding), then our choice of words should help us reach said goal. There are several ways in which you can do this, but they all follow this one simple rule: **Avoiding prolixity**.

Unless our goal here is to get you to Google the word *prolixity* (which it is, just to demonstrate a point, but let's pretend it isn't), then this would be a perfect example of what you shouldn't do, which is use confusing vocabulary. Jargon can serve to make you appear more knowledgeable about a subject, but unless the person on the other end of the conversation is equally perspicacious on the given subject, most of what you say will come across as intellectual flimflam. You're more likely to cause gargalesthesia or come across as a morosoph, so don't be obdurate about this. If you're this type of communicator, a profound metanoia about communication will do wonders in helping you strike mutual understanding.

To rephrase the previous paragraph in a way that doesn't sound pretentious: Don't use business jargon or unnecessarily complicated words that obscure meaning or otherwise obstruct communication. Sure, they may make you appear smarter, but the goal isn't to appear smarter; the goal is to establish mutual understanding. This type of talk can only serve to turn the audience into passive listeners. If you want to be understood, you must find ways of communicating your intentions in a clear and easily understandable way.

**3. Principle of attention**

*LISTEN ATTENTIVELY*

No matter how well put together a sentence is, it won't do us much good if we're bad listeners.

This is why focusing on ways you can improve your listening skills is paramount to effective communication.

We can extend the phrase *listening skills* to entail everything the person on the receiving end of communication does.

As Alex Goryachev put it in his Forbes article on innovation and communication: "*People listen mostly to respond, rather than to understand*." In short, there can be no collaboration without communication, and there can be no communication without listening. Leaders, in particular, have a lot to gain from listening to what their subordinates have to say and evaluating all their accumulated suggestions before retaking the reins of the conversation.

For something less abstract, here is the first step you should take in order to become a better listener:

**Don't jump to conclusions**!

This is a proclivity no one is immune to. We like to play detectives. The sooner we can infer a conclusion from scattered pieces of information, the better we feel about our deduction skills. It's as if figuring out what the other person means is more important than listening to them and letting them arrive at their conclusion. But this is no way to treat communication, especially in a remote team.

It bears noting that communication is not a race against time. Even if it were a race against time, in cases of bomb defusal, you'd still be better off attentively listening to the person on the other end of the line and not jumping to conclusions and cutting the wrong wire! Be patient and let the other person make their points. This way, the conclusion will find you.

**4. Principle of assertiveness**

*COMMUNICATE ASSERTIVELY*

You've all heard this quote. It really is a terrible mindset to take with you in any team, least of all a remote one. But while communication is a two-way street, there certainly are things you can do to motivate attentiveness in people you're communicating with. The best advice we can give is to be more assertive in communication with your remote team.

For example, while conversing in person, we would normally reaffirm our interest in the subject and the interlocutor by looking them in the eyes. Remote workers usually only see eye to eye during video conference calls, but here, to achieve the same effect

you should instead look directly at your camera. If you look the person in the eye on your display, you'll appear to be looking elsewhere. Of our 9 tips for assertive communication in remote teams, this one is by far the most unintuitive, but it yields results.

The healthy communication environment that assertive communicators promote makes others more likely to engage in the conversation and understand our points. Assertiveness also lends itself well to written communication, where miscommunication is even likelier to occur without it.

**5. Principle of feedback**

*AFFIRM MUTUAL UNDERSTANDING*

Assuming that your message has been understood just the way you intended is not a good habit to get into. It helps to remind yourself that communication is comprised of three distinct parts: the sender, the message, and the receiver. Brelo's model of communication takes this several steps further by outlining the following **six steps of communication**:

The communications source (in this case you)

The encoding of the message

The message

The delivery method of the message

The decoding of the message

The message receiver

As you can see, not only are the sender and the message clearly not one and the same, but the receiver is plenty distant as well. Integrating the principle of feedback into your communication can feel unnatural, but nothing can inform you of the success or failure of establishing mutual understanding quite like it.

The way to implement it is quite simple — you ask the other person to repeat what they understood. If they get it right, you give them the a-okay. If they get it wrong, you attempt to communicate your idea again and ask them to repeat it once more. To illustrate how this works, we can turn back to our bomb defusal example, where the person cutting the wires would be better off confirming that they understood the technician correctly before clenching the pliers.

As with looking into the camera during conference calls, this will require an upfront investment of effort, but the more you do it, the more casual you and everyone else will become about it. Furthermore, it won't take long for this type of feedback to prove itself useful — it has the power to defuse miscommunication before any problems arise,

at which point everyone will understand its usefulness and be more open to participating.

6. Principle of informality

*USE INFORMAL COMMUNICATION CHANNELS*

One of the steps in Brelo's model of communication is *the delivery method of the message*. A message with the same content will be communicated differently depending on the medium used. Formal communication channels like emails or formal one-on-ones may well be the first association for business communication that comes to mind, but among remote teams, informal communication channels (better known as grapevine communication) have proven more effective.

To this effect, many remote teams turn to a business messaging app, like Pumble — which can be used both by management as an official channel of communication and by all employees as an informal communication channel. Pumble not only facilitates faster communication but can also tap into the other benefits of informal workplace communication, such as team-building and feedback facilitation. Outside of using a team messaging app, adhering to the principle of feedback is all but impossible in remote teams. Can you even imagine trying that out via email?

Example of a remote team communicating via Pumble

**7. Principle of consistency**

*DON'T BE MISLEADING*

Likewise, it's important to keep the contents and the tone of a message uniform. It's been shown that, when misaligned, we tend to give more credence to the tone of a message than we do to its contents. You can substitute *tone* for any other cue of non-verbal communication and the results would be the same. As illustrated above, if someone shouts "*I am not angry"* at you, in a tone of voice that unequivocally suggests they are angry, you're not going to take their words at face value. Instead, you will infer the truthfulness of the message from its tone, i.e. you will understand that they are, in fact, angry.

This is just one mode of consistency to watch out for, and while it may not be the mode most often encountered at work, it serves as a fine example to illustrate the overall importance of tonal consistency. Furthermore, you must look at whether the information you are communicating is consistent with previous information. If the directions management gives now are inconsistent with their previous directions, and they don't elaborate on these inconsistencies or highlight what should take precedence, it will most certainly cause misunderstandings and confusion.

This has been proven on a large scale during the Covid-19 pandemic outbreak, when new and different preventative and safety measures were first being implemented, one after another, in a manner that can only be described as confusing.

**8. Principle of rhetoric**

*LEARN TO BE PERSUASIVE*

The goal of communication is often persuasion, be it persuading someone to click a link, buy your product, agree with your points of view, or anything else. The ancient-greek modes of persuasion (ethos, pathos, logos) have aided humanity in effective persuasion for thousands of years.

Nominally, these modes of persuasion are taught as integral parts of a good speech. However, you can use any combination of them in everyday communication. Here's a quick refresher on what these concepts mean:

**Ethos** is used to establish your credibility on the topic of the speech, either by providing your professional credentials or referring to the work or words of other professionals. For example, if you wish to dominate a topic on preventing workplace injuries, you can start your monologue by saying "*As a physical therapist with decades of clinical experience,"* or, (and this is more likely) "*According to the Bureau of Labour Statistics (BLS)."*

**Logos** is used to appeal to the intellectual side of your brain, by providing facts and statistics. "*According to BLS, a third of all worker injury or illnesses in 2013 were due to musculoskeletal disorders*." As you can see, ethos and logos go hand in hand when you cite sources to establish the authority of your argument.

**Pathos** is a plea to the emotional side of the brain. "*If nothing is done to improve workplace ergonomics, soon it will be your children who are developing symptoms of De Quervain's tenosynovitis, or worse.*"

Different people respond to different modes of persuasion. Pathos may not work on someone governed by logic, just like logos may prove ineffective on folks guided by emotionsExample of an employee using ethos and logos to persuade his co-workers in Pumble

**9. Principle of timeliness**

*COMMUNICATE ON TIME*

"*A wizard is never late, nor is he early*," said Gandalf, the wise mentor from "The Lord of the Rings". If you were a wizard, you could bank on the most opportune time to communicate conveniently coinciding with your earliest convenience. Alas, you are not a wizard, so bear this in mind: Not all information is *better late than never*. This is why many remote teams turn to team communication apps to help keep their members in sync.

Under the principle of concept, we've already mentioned how patterns for most effective conference call scheduling are emerging, but this isn't the only way to communicate your thoughts and ideas.

Adhering to the principle of timeliness entails making efforts to ensure you communicate at the right time. Information that arrives too late can often be useless. On the other hand, information that arrives too early can easily be dismissed as irrelevant. The window you have for effectively communicating time-sensitive information is often shorter than the window you have to congratulate your friend's or family member's birthday without adding the dreaded *belated* — and we all know how well that turns out without making a conscious effort.

Just like wishing someone a happy birthday is *timeliest* on the actual date of their birthday, you should be aware that many business-related pieces of information have an expiration date. To this end, the use of a real-time team communication app is essential.

Example of an employee communicating in a timely manner on Pumble

**10. Principle of adequacy**

*OFFER COMPLETE MEANING*

To make the meaning of your message as clear as you can, you must ensure that it is adequately complete. Unless you're relying on luck, communicating a complete message gives you the best chance of reaching mutual understanding. But what does it mean for a message to be *adequately* complete? Well, consider the following example:

"*I'm rescheduling the meeting that was due in 15 minutes for later this afternoon. Something came up. I've attached the outline for the meeting. Please familiarize yourself with its contents so that we can get through it more efficiently.*"

On its own, this message is complete enough to communicate clear instructions to your team. Sometimes, this is all you want or need to do.

But if you're looking to communicate your thoughts or feelings on a matter, the contents of the message should adequately reflect this — in other words, you have to be explicit.

If you want to let the other team members know you value their time and don't feel good about this sudden inconvenience, you'll have to add something like this: "*It feels frustrating having to do this last minute."* Likewise, it may help to let the team know why they got stood up. Juggling remote work and parenting is an act many remote employees practice on a daily basis, so a reason such as "*my daughter spilled piping hot water on her legs and I have to take her to ER*" will help signal the urgency of your situation.

Again, it's important to highlight that all versions of this message are complete in their own way. Making the message adequately means including all the info you want and expect others to know.

**Conclusion**

The challenges remote teams face are many and largely unresearched, but communication need not be one of them. So long as you stay aware of the fact that your utterances aren't always a one-to-one translation of the idea you wish to convey, and that the person on the other end of communication may interpret those utterances in a wholly different way, you can get ahead of the problem by employing these 10 principles of communication.

## B). Barriers of communication

Communicating is easy, right? After all, we communicate every day. So why does interacting with people sometimes feel so difficult, complicated or frustrating? In these situations, you are probably encountering one of the key communication barriers that can hinder both professional and personal relationships. Here are seven of the most common communication barriers that get in the way of good relationships.

**Physical Barriers**

Research shows that proximity is important for building cohesive teams, yet workplaces often stifle this with a range of physical communication barriers. These can include desk and office dividers, closed office doors, separate areas for people of different statuses, and 'team territories' that others avoid. The rise in home working has added further communication barriers, giving rise to a wealth of online collaboration tools to help people feel more connected. Nevertheless, there are concerns that an inability to collaborate is directly affecting our creativity and innovation.

To combat this, some businesses are using basic skills training to optimise the way people use online productivity tools. At a minimum, make sure everyone is comfortable with working with Zoom and other platforms so they can make a productive contribution to calls. If you manage remote team meetings you may be interested in Help Out at Home

**Perceptual Barriers**

These communication barriers exist in people's minds based on how they perceive the world around them. They can be caused by the many cognitive biases of the human mind that prevent us from perceiving people and situations accurately.

Individuals may also have their own unique biases based on previous experience and the influence of others.

Ask yourself what perceptions might be holding you or others back from communicating effectively. To encourage others to question their perceptions, try this short anecdote.

***Read this Article about Equality and Diversity***

Everyone falls foul of their cognitive biases from time to time, which is why we should always challenge our thinking. The different perspectives of others can help you see where your own thought patterns can be improved. Familiarise yourself with the key cognitive biases so you can appreciate when they may be affecting communication. However, avoid tackling people's beliefs head-on. They will have solid reasons for thinking the way they do, and you need to understand these clearly first.

## Emotional Barriers

Emotional communication barriers are the negative feelings we acquire about certain people, places and situations. Whether caused by bad experiences or the influence of others, they evoke emotions such as fear and mistrust that prevent effective interaction. Sometimes the barrier is simply fear of what others think about us, which may come from being taught to 'mind our Ps and Qs' or 'never speak until you are spoken to' when we were children. Although caution is wise, excessive fear of what others think stunts development and inhibits your ability to build better relationships.

Most people will have experienced a moment when their emotions got the better of them, and the resulting effect it had on personal relationships and the dynamic of a group. Anger and fear are two of the most powerful emotions, whether directed outwardly or inwardly. When we experience these emotions intensely, we are less able to process what goes on around us rationally. Things become framed in our anger or fear.

If emotion is causing issues, then it may require a proactive solution to enhance the interpersonal dynamics of a group. For example, an angry person needs to cool off, so it's best to break up the gathering to allow the person time to think. Bear in mind that emotions can affect our perceptions. To resolve an emotional barrier, try to identify if a misunderstanding or misconception is the root cause of someone's reaction.

## Cultural Barriers

To be accepted as a member of a group, we often need to adopt patterns of behaviour that the group perceives as a sign of belonging. For example, honesty, openness, diligence, banter or a sense of humour. Cultural communication barriers arise if you don't understand the group's required behaviour patterns, which increases the risk of doing something its members frown upon.

To resolve cultural barriers, try to understand their behaviour, how it came to be, and why it sparks negative feelings. Naturally, the context of the environment is everything in choosing how to proceed and what is best overall. When someone joins a group, it can help to orientate them about how the group works, and even with associated aspects such as how it socialises. As well as being welcoming, this also helps to minimise misunderstandings.

**Take a Look at this Article about Cross-Cultural Issues**

## Language Barriers

Language causes communication barriers if you use words that other people are unfamiliar with. As soon as you introduce these words, you begin to exclude others. Bear in mind this includes expressions, buzzwords and jargon. In business, we must always talk to people in their own language if we want to understand them and influence their behaviour. One of the more chilling memories of the Cold War was hearing Soviet leader Nikita Khrushchev telling the US, This was taken to mean a threat of nuclear annihilation, but a more accurate interpretation was simply,

By this, he meant achieving economic superiority.

Effective communicators get to know their conversational counterparts so they can judge which words to use. Talking to someone in their own language doesn't necessarily mean learning German for a specific meeting, but making sure you only use words that everyone will understand. Always be sympathetic to other people as they may not recognise the technical terms, acronyms and colloquialisms you use on a daily basis. Furthermore, be careful how you react as people may simply be using the wrong word to express themselves.

**Check out Ten Tips For Cross-Cultural Communication**

## Gender Barriers

Gender barriers to communication can still cause issues occasionally, and are perhaps some of the subtlest to identify. They often arise when someone has an oversimplified or stereotypical idea of how a gender behaves. This can cause them to act in a way that impedes open, honest and appropriate communication with others.

Gender barriers are closely linked to cultural barriers, particularly differences in nationality and age group. Bear in mind that not everyone has the same ability to adapt to the values of a different culture, or 'move with the times' as we attempt to progress towards a more equal society. There are also physiological differences between the genders that affect the way we communicate. Neurology helps us understand which parts of the brain are active when we speak, and how that affects our communication. To overcome gender barriers, promote equality at all times and look for ways to achieve greater balance within a group. It can also help to educate people about gender bias if you sense it is causing an issue.

**See Improving Team Performance Top 10 Tips**

## Interpersonal Barriers

Interpersonal barriers are patterns of behaviour that prevent you from communicating effectively, or that prevent people from communicating with you.

This could be because of something the person is doing consciously, such as deliberately switching off their phone or closing their door because they don't want to speak to anyone. However, it is often more likely to be something they are doing unconsciously. For example, our feelings about someone or something can be expressed through our body language. This is perceived by the other person, and causes them to react accordingly.

These communication barriers can be tricky to identify as there may be many drivers. For example, a person may have difficulties at work that causes them to withdraw. They may have issues with self-esteem that drives a lack of assertiveness. They may have superiority issues that give them a tendency towards being overbearing or belittling. Workplace cultures, disorganization and greater prevalence of distance working can also cause and exacerbate issues. The best advice is to observe the patterns of communication that occur when people are together, and look for clues as to what might be causing issues.

## Break Through The Barriers

Identifying barriers is an essential communication skill that helps with management, networking, sales and generally being able to influence people. It is as valuable to written communication as it is to verbal. This is why great communicators develop a keen sense for when communication isn't going as well as it should. As soon as you detect this, start looking for the clues.

Ask questions to learn more about the person and their perception of the situation. Listen to what they say, and watch their body language to identify what they might really be thinking and feeling. Improving the way you communicate is a broad-brush activity that also benefits from looking at many aspects of yourself. As you communicate, try to change your own thoughts and feelings and see how it improves the interaction.

Boost your everyday communication skills

This is often the first step to breaking down communication barriers and building better relationships with colleagues, family members and friends.

**Unit:II**
**LISTENING**

**Stages of the Listening Process**

Listening is a skill of critical significance in all aspects of our lives, from maintaining our personal relationships, to getting our jobs done, to taking notes in class, to figuring out which bus to take to the airport. Regardless of how we're engaged with listening, it's important to understand that listening involves more than just hearing the words that are directed at us. Listening is an active process by which we make sense of, assess, and respond to what we hear.

The listening process involves five stages: receiving, understanding, evaluating, remembering, and responding. These stages will be discussed in more detail in later sections. An effective listener must hear and identify the speech sounds directed toward them, understand the message of those sounds, critically evaluate or assess that message, remember what's been said, and respond (either verbally or nonverbally) to information they've received. Effectively engaging in all five stages of the listening process lets us best gather the information we need from the world around us.

**Active Listening**

Active listening is a particular communication technique that requires the listener to provide feedback on what he or she hears to the speaker, by way of restating or paraphrasing what they have heard in their own words. The goal of this repetition is to confirm what the listener has heard and to confirm the understanding of both parties. The ability to actively listen demonstrates sincerity, and that nothing is being assumed

or taken for granted. Active listening is most often used to improve personal relationships, reduce misunderstanding and conflicts, strengthen cooperation, and foster understanding. When engaging with a particular speaker, a listener can use several degrees of active listening, each resulting in a different quality of communication with the speaker. This active listening chart shows three main degrees of listening: repeating, paraphrasing, and reflecting.

Active listening can also involve paying attention to the speaker's behavior and body language. Having the ability to interpret a person's body language lets the listener develop a more accurate understanding of the speaker's message.

**The Receiving Stage**

The first stage of the listening process is the receiving stage, which involves hearing and attending.

Hearing is the physiological process of registering sound waves as they hit the eardrum. As obvious as it may seem, in order to effectively gather information through listening, we must first be able to physically hear what we're listening to. The clearer the sound, the easier the listening process becomes.

Paired with hearing, attending is the other half of the receiving stage in the listening process. Attending is the process of accurately identifying and interpreting particular sounds we hear as words. The sounds we hear have no meaning until we give them their meaning in context. Listening is an active process that constructs meaning from both verbal and nonverbal messages.

**The Challenges of Reception**

Listeners are often bombarded with a variety of auditory stimuli all at once, so they must differentiate which of those stimuli are speech sounds and which are not. Effective listening involves being able to focus on speech sounds while disregarding other noise. For instance, a train passenger that hears the captain's voice over the loudspeaker understands that the captain is speaking, then deciphers what the captain is saying despite other voices in the cabin. Another example is trying to listen to a friend tell a story while walking down a busy street. In order to best listen to what she's saying, the listener needs to ignore the ambient street sounds.

Attending also involves being able to discern human speech, also known as Identifying auditory stimuli as speech but not being able to break those speech sounds down into sentences and words would be a failure of the listening process. Discerning speech segmentation can be a more difficult activity when the listener is faced with an unfamiliar language.

**The Understanding Stage**

The second stage in the listening process is the understanding stage. Understanding or comprehension occurs when both the speaker and audience share an experience of meaning, and constitutes the first step in the listening process. This is the stage during which the audience determines the context and meanings of the words they hear. Determining the context and meaning of individual words, as well as assigning meaning in language, is essential to understanding sentences, and, thus, both are essential to understanding a speaker's message.

Once the listener understands the speaker's main point, they can begin to sort out the rest of the information they are hearing and decide where it belongs in their mental outline. For example, a political candidate listens to her opponent's arguments to understand what policy decisions that opponent supports.

Before getting the big picture of a message, it can be difficult to focus on what the speaker is saying. Think about walking into a lecture class halfway through. You may immediately understand the words and sentences that you are hearing, but not immediately understand what the lecturer is proving or whether what you're hearing at the moment is the main point, side note, or digression.

Understanding what we hear is a huge part of our everyday lives, particularly in terms of gathering basic information. In the office, people listen to their superiors for instructions about what they are to do. At school, students listen to teachers to learn new ideas. We listen to political candidates give policy speeches in order to determine who will get our vote. But without understanding what we hear, none of this everyday listening would relay any practical information to us. One tactic for better understanding a speaker's meaning is to ask questions. Asking questions allows the listener to fill in any holes he or she may have in the mental reconstruction of the speaker's message.

**The Evaluating Stage**

This stage of the listening process is the one during which the listener assesses the information they received, both qualitatively and quantitatively. Evaluating allows the listener to form an opinion of what they heard and, if necessary, to begin developing a response.

During the evaluating stage, the listener determines whether or not the information they heard and understood from the speaker is well constructed or disorganized, biased or unbiased, true or false, significant or insignificant. They also ascertain how and why the speaker has come up with and conveyed the message that they delivered. This process may involve considerations of a speaker's personal or professional motivations and goals. For example, a listener may determine that a co-worker's vehement condemnation of another for jamming the copier is factually correct, but may also understand that the co-worker's child is sick and that may be putting them on edge. A voter who listens to and understands the points made in a political candidate's stump speech can decide whether those points were convincing enough to earn their vote.

The evaluating stage occurs most effectively once the listener fully understands what the speaker is trying to say. While we can, and sometimes do, form opinions of information and ideas that we don't fully understand—or even that we misunderstand—doing so is not often ideal in the long run. Having a clear understanding of a speaker's message allows a listener to evaluate that message without getting bogged down in ambiguities or spending unnecessary time and energy addressing points that may be tangential or otherwise non-essential.

This stage of critical analysis is important for a listener in terms of how what they heard will affect their own ideas, decisions, actions, and/or beliefs.

**The Remembering Stage**

In the listening process, the remembering stage occurs as the audience categorizes and retains the information they've gathered from the speaker for future access. The result—memory—allows the person to record information about people, objects, and events for later recall. This process happens both during and after the speaker's delivery.

Memory is essential throughout the listening process. We depend on our memory to fill in the blanks when we're listening and to let us place what we're hearing at the moment in the context of what we've heard before. If, for example, you forgot everything that you heard immediately after you heard it, you would not be able to follow along with what a speaker says, and conversations would be impossible. Moreover, a friend who expresses fear about a dog she sees on the sidewalk ahead can help you recall that the friend began the conversation with her childhood memory of being attacked by a dog.

Remembering previous information is critical to moving forward. Similarly, making associations to past remembered information can help a listener understand what she is currently hearing in a wider context. In listening to a lecture about the symptoms of depression, for example, a listener might make a connection to the description of a character in a novel that she read years before.

Using information immediately after receiving it enhances information retention and lessens the forgetting curve or the rate at which we no longer retain information in our memory. Conversely, retention is lessened when we engage in mindless listening, and little effort is made to understand a speaker's message. Because everyone has different memories, the speaker and the listener may attach different meanings to the same statement. In this sense, establishing common ground in terms of context is extremely important, both for listeners and speakers.

**The Responding Stage**

The responding stage is the stage of the listening process wherein the listener provides verbal and/or nonverbal reactions based on short- or long-term memory. Following the remembering stage, a listener can respond to what they hear either verbally or non-verbally. Nonverbal signals can include gestures such as nodding, making eye contact,

tapping a pen, fidgeting, scratching or cocking their head, smiling, rolling their eyes, grimacing, or any other body language. These kinds of responses can be displayed purposefully or involuntarily. Responding verbally might involve asking a question, requesting additional information, redirecting or changing the focus of a conversation, cutting off a speaker, or repeating what a speaker has said back to her in order to verify that the received message matches the intended message.

Nonverbal responses like nodding or eye contact allow the listener to communicate their level of interest without interrupting the speaker, thereby preserving the speaker/listener roles. When a listener responds verbally to what they hear and remember—for example, with a question or a comment—the speaker/listener roles are reversed, at least momentarily.

Responding adds action to the listening process, which would otherwise be an outwardly passive process. Oftentimes, the speaker looks for verbal and nonverbal responses from the listener to determine if and how their message is being understood and/or considered. Based on the listener's responses, the speaker can choose to either adjust or continue with the delivery of her message. For example, if a listener's brow is furrowed and their arms are crossed, the speaker may determine that she needs to lighten their tone to better communicate their point. If a listener is smiling and nodding or asking questions, the speaker may feel that the listener is engaged and her message is being communicated effectively.

**Conclusion**

In short, active listening is crucial for establishing our ethos. If we hope to be persuasive, we need to demonstrate our good will, good character, and good judgement to others by carefully listening and responding to their messages.

## B). Types of Listening

# 7 types of listening skills

1. Informational listening
2. Discriminative listening
3. Biased listening
4. Sympathetic listening
5. Comprehensive listening
6. Empathetic or therapeutic listening
7. Critical listening

Let's explore seven of these types of listening, why they matter, and what they can look like:

**1. Informational listening**

When you want to learn something, you'll use informational listening to understand and retain information.

You also need to apply critical thinking to what you are learning. This is so you can understand what you're learning within the context of relevant information.

Some examples of informational listening include:

- Work training
- Self-paced learning at home or at work
- Listening to an educational ebook
- Coaching

When you know how to use informational listening, you empower yourself to become a better learner. By actively learning and improving yourself, you can become a more valuable asset in your place of work.

You can also feel more fulfilled when you pursue your passions and learn something new at home.

**2. Discriminative listening**

Discriminative listening is the first listening type that you're born with.

Everyone innately has discriminative listening skills.

You use this type of listening before you even know how to understand words. Instead of relying on words, discriminative listening uses tone of voice, verbal cues, and other changes in sound.

Discriminative listening is how babies understand the intention of a phrase before they can understand words. If someone speaks to them in a happy and amused tone of voice, they'll smile and laugh back.

They can also tell who is talking because they recognize different voices.

But discriminative listening isn't just for babies.

If you're listening to a conversation happening in a foreign language, you'll likely automatically use your discriminative listening skills.

These will allow you to analyze tone and inflection to get an idea of what is going on.

You can also use nonverbal cues to listen and analyze. For instance, someone's facial expressions, body language, and other mannerisms can tell you a lot about the meaning of someone's message. You shouldn't discount discriminative listening, even if you understand someone's language. This listening style is key to understanding the subtle cues in a conversation. Using this listening skill can help you read between the lines and hear what remains unspoken.

**Here's an example:**

Let's say you ask one of your colleagues if they agree with a course of action. They say yes, but you can tell from their body language, such as shifting uncomfortably, that something is wrong. Using your discriminative listening skills, you can pick up on this and ask them if they're certain. You can also ask if something is going on that they'd like to discuss.

**3. Biased listening**

Biased listening is also known as selective listening. Someone who uses biased listening will only listen for information that they specifically want to hear. This listening process can lead to a distortion of facts. That's because the person listening isn't fully in tune with what the speaker wishes to communicate.

**Here's an example:**

Let's say your superior is briefing you on a new project. You're waiting to hear about the details of this assignment because you've been excited for a long time about it.

Because you're so focused on the details of the assignment, you don't fully hear everything your superior says. As a result, you *hear* your superior explain how you'll be judged on this project, but you don't fully *process* it. Because you don't have this information, you may not perform as well as you could if you had understood all the details.

**4. Sympathetic listening**

Instead of focusing on the message spoken through words, the listener focuses on the feelings and emotions of the speaker. This is done to process these feelings and emotions. The speaker will feel heard and validated when you take the time to pay attention in this way. Sympathetic listening is crucial if you want to build a deeper relationship with someone in your life.

For example, let's say you run into a work colleague at the grocery store. They seem upset, so you decide to listen to what they have to say. You also use sympathetic listening to feel how they are feeling. In doing this, you notice how

frustrated they are about the lack of recognition they are getting at work. As a result, you can offer your support and sympathize with their situation.

**5. Comprehensive listening**

Unlike discriminative listening, comprehensive listening requires language skills. This type of listening is usually developed in early childhood. People use comprehensive listening to understand what someone is saying using words.

Several other types of listening build on comprehensive listening. For example, you need to use comprehensive listening to use informational listening and learn something new. At work and in your life, you'll likely use a combination of comprehensive and discriminative listening to understand the messages people are giving you.

**For example,** let's say your colleague briefs you on a project. You'll need to use comprehensive listening to analyze the words and understand the message.

**6. Empathetic or therapeutic listening**

Empathetic listening is useful to help you see from other people's perspectives. Using this type of listening, you can try to understand someone else's point of view as they're speaking. You can also try to imagine yourself in the other person's shoes. Instead of just focusing on their message, you can use empathetic listening to relate to someone else's experiences as if they were your own.

**This is different from sympathetic listening.**

With sympathetic listening, you try to understand someone's feelings to provide support. But you don't necessarily try to imagine what it'd feel like to be in their position.

**Here's an example:**

Let's say your superior just announced that this week's company outing is canceled due to budget cuts. By using empathetic listening, you can tell how much pressure your superior is feeling. You can imagine yourself having to break the bad news. You know there's pressure from higher-ups to respect the budget. You also know that there's pressure from employees. Instead of getting upset, you understand why your superior made this decision. That's because you can imagine what it's like to be in their shoes at this moment.

**7. Critical listening**

If you need to analyze complex information, you'll need to use critical listening.

Using critical thinking while listening goes deeper than comprehensive listening. Instead of taking the information at face value, you can use critical listening to evaluate what's being said. Critical listening is crucial when problem-solving at work.

**For example,** you'd use this type of listening when trying to choose how to handle an unusual and complex client request. You need to use this skill to analyze solutions offered by other people and decide if you agree or not. To do this, you don't just need to hear their words. You also need to look at the bigger picture and compare everything you know.

**B). Principles of Active Listening**

**There are five key elements of active listening.** They all help you ensure that you hear the other person, and that the other person knows you are listening to what they say.

**1. Pay attention.** Give the speaker your undivided attention, and acknowledge the message. Recognize that nonverbal communication also "speaks" loudly. Look at the speaker directly. Put aside distracting thoughts. Don't mentally prepare a rebuttal! Avoid being distracted by environmental factors. "Listen" to the speaker's body language. Refrain from side conversations when listening in a group setting.

**2. Show that you are listening.** Use your own body language and gestures to convey your attention. Nod occasionally. Smile and use other facial expressions. Note your posture and make sure it is open and inviting. Encourage the speaker to continue with small verbal comments like "Yes" and "Aha".

**3. Provide feedback.** Our personal filters, assumptions, judgments, and beliefs can distort what we hear. As a listener, your role is to understand what is being said. This may require you to reflect what is being said and ask questions. Reflect what has been said by paraphrasing. "What I'm hearing is" and "Sounds like you are saying" are great ways to reflect back. Ask questions to clarify certain points. "What do you mean when you say", "Is this what you mean?" Summarize the speaker's comments periodically. *Tip: If you find yourself responding emotionally to what someone said, say so, and ask for more information: "I may not understand you correctly, and I find myself taking what you said personally.

**4. Defer judgment.** Interrupting is a waste of time. It frustrates the speaker and limits full understanding of the message. Allow the speaker to finish. Don't interrupt with counter **arguments.**

**5. Respond Appropriately.** Active listening is a model for respect and understanding. You are gaining information and perspective. You add nothing by attacking the speaker or otherwise putting him or her down. Be candid, open, and honest in your response.

Assert your opinions respectfully. Treat the other person as s/he would want to be treated.

# B). Listening with a Purpose

Most people aren't the best communicators. Many times they don't really mean what they are saying. What they *actually* want to say is different from what they *are* saying. Unless you are listening with a purpose to understand their point of view, the communication will break down. There are obvious signs when there's a breakdown in communication. Especially when both parties charge angrily or storm out frustrated. But this doesn't happen abruptly. It starts with a small crack that slowly builds with time.

Here Simran is expressing how she feels about the whole thing—that she's the one who has to do all the work, but Raj isn't listening. Instead, Raj is countering her emotional state of mind with logic. This will never work. This is a classic example of failing to understand the difference between what is *said* and what is *meant*. When an employee comes to you and says, "I don't feel appreciated," your first job is to "acknowledge" their state of mind instead of disputing it with a set of counter examples. "What about the time we celebrated your birthday in office, didn't you feel appreciated?".

But what Harry is asking has nothing to do with what Sally is trying to say. His question serves the conversation that Harry is having with himself. "Who is this boss? Is she the new one? Yes, the new one was supposed to join a month back. Let me ask and confirm." Instead of supporting Sally, Harry is shifting the conversation to another direction.

We praise the great orators and speakers, but never the listeners. That's why we've raised a generation of people who can't wait for their turn to speak. Instead of listening and trying to understand what the other person is trying to say, we jump at our turn to make our case—like a litigator. While a bad listener can't wait to say their line, a purposeful listener listens with intent, clarifies uncertain points, often paraphrases what is said, and asks the speaker to expand on certain points. Their primary purpose is to understand, not to respond.

**Purposeful listeners** look for cues in the body language and the emotional state of the speaker. They try to calibrate their response accordingly. If the speaker is heavy with rage, frustration, or sadness, being logical won't help. If the speaker is looking for a solution then just being emotionally supportive won't help. Purposeful listeners know the difference. Listening with purpose is not trying to bring about a change in behaviour

of the speaker. People don't change so easily. Even if they change under the sway of strong emotions, this change isn't permanent.

In a conversation, you may have easy answers to the speaker's struggles. Listening with purpose means understanding their point of view, their logic, and their story without being judgemental and without getting enraged or frustrated. If you listen to people without judgement they put their guards down and open up like a flower. They become more considerate and open to reason and change. This is how you help them. Listening is one of the foundations of society. It's how we form meaningful relationships and connections with other folks. And yet, we rarely treat listening—like reading and talking—as a skill that requires knowledge and practice.

## C). Barriers of Listening

**What Are Some Common Barriers to Effective Listening?**

According to a study from the University of Minnesota, people only remember about half of what was said immediately after listening to someone else talk. This information

is quite concerning considering how essential communication is for success and growth in the business world.

Whether you feel like your own listening skills could be improved or that your business is suffering due to ineffective listening, understanding the common barriers to effective listening can help you make the necessary changes to improve communication.

Some obstacles that stand in the way of listening effectively are physical and environmental, while others might be psychological, emotional, or cultural.

When you're communicating in the office, several elements are all interacting– namely, the speaker, the listener, and the environment. Therefore, if miscommunication is a frequent problem, identifying where the issue stems from is the first step in creating a more productive workplace.

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**What Is Effective Listening?**

When an individual effectively listens, they are actively absorbing the information they are receiving. In addition, they provide feedback to the person that is speaking, so they understand that they are being heard. Their body language and facial expressions show they are interested and listening.

In a busy, tech-driven world, it is more challenging than ever for people to be present enough to listen to one another. There are countless benefits to promoting a workplace that engages in effective listening, including:

- Being able to solve problems better
- Improving accuracy
- Building relationships
- Ensuring understanding
- Less wasted time
- Fewer errors

Luckily, effective listening is a skill that can be developed with practice. Let's take a look at some of the common barriers to effective listening to help you overcome the obstacles that might be standing in the way of optimal communication..

**Common Barriers to Effective Listening**

**1. Physical and Environmental Barriers**

The most obvious obstacle to effective listening is anything that physically makes it difficult to hear what is being said. This might be too much distance between the speakers, excessive external noise, or physical obstructions blocking sound from traveling between individuals.

A person's ability to listen effectively can also be hindered by environmental factors such as temperature and lighting. For example, an uncomfortably hot room can distract someone from fully paying attention to a speaker, and a room that is too dark could leave them tired and disengaged. Even the way that furniture is arranged can impact a person's ability to listen. While some seating arrangements encourage listening, others discourage it and separate people.

**2. Cultural Barriers**

When people have different backgrounds religiously, ethnically, culturally, or otherwise, it can create cultural barriers that make it difficult to listen effectively. For example, cultural barriers can emerge when two companies are doing business together from different parts of the world. Each business might have customs and social norms informed by their respective cultural context.

**3. Emotional and Psychological Barriers**

We've already talked about external noise creating an obstacle to effective listening, but there's also something known as *psychological noise*. That is the mental noise that emerges from our mood and energy level. It becomes difficult to receive and process information when you're in a more extreme mood, whether positive or negative. For example, it can be just as distracting to be madly in love as it can be to feel consumed by anger.

Both excited arousal and anxious arousal can negatively impact our ability to listen. An employee that is eager to start their weekend is likely not going to be fully listening to what is being said, much in the same way an employee that is worried about losing their job will struggle to listen effectively.

The way that we think can also get in the way of actively listening. Sometimes, we are quick to judge what is being said by another person, or we feel we know what they're going to say before they say it. This can influence our ability to hear what is being communicated.

**4. Physiological Barriers**

When we aren't feeling our best, it's hard to be fully present. If a person is suffering from an injury, an illness, or bodily stress, it can get in the way of their ability to hear and process what is being said.

**5. Language Barriers**

Another thing that can hinder the ability to listen actively is the presence of a language barrier. When two or more people are communicating, they don't speak the same native language or have distinctly different accents. Language barriers can also emerge within the same language if the parties involved are from different regions or cultures and use expressions unknown to each other.

Effectively listening when there is a language barrier isn't, by any means, impossible. However, it can take more empathy and attention to ensure that you fully understand the communication that is occurring.

**6. Making Assumptions**

When we make assumptions about the speaker's intent or meaning before they have even finished their statement, we aren't practicing effective listening. A person might be biased against another individual and assume they hold certain beliefs even though they haven't gotten to know them.

**7. Too Much Information**

Have you ever felt so overwhelmed by something new and complex that you stopped being able to intake information? This situation is an example of another barrier to effective listening: information overload.

If a person doesn't seem to be actively listening to you, it might not be that they are being rude. It's possible that they've reached their limit in terms of new information, and they're decreasingly able to be present and focused on what's being said.

**8. Tone of Voice**

The tone that a person uses to speak can also create barriers to effective listening. Not everyone will react the same way to different tones of voice, and two people might hear the same vocal tone in very different ways.

For example, one listener might find that an energetic speaker is engaging, while another might react emotionally to what they feel is a loud and angry tone.

**9. Speed of Speech**

When someone is talking too fast, it can be challenging for listeners to keep up with the conversation. Some people naturally have a fast pace of speech, while others might be talking faster than normal out of nervousness. At the same time, a person talking too slowly can also lose their audience's attention. If they speak abnormally slow, listeners might start to disengage and no longer listen actively.

**10. Time Pressure**

When you run into someone you know, and you ask them how they've been, what do they say? Almost always, the response is: *busy*.

It's common to feel like there isn't enough time in the day to get to everything that needs to be done. When we feel pressed for time, it becomes challenging to engage with what someone is saying fully. Whether you have a meeting in ten minutes or you're up against a deadline, feeling time pressure can mean that your ability to listen effectively is hindered.

**11. Interruption**

Both the speaker and the listeners can be responsible for creating interruptions that make it difficult to listen effectively. The listener might chime in frequently and un-empathetically when the speaker is talking, making it difficult for everyone involved following along and focusing. The speaker could also create interruptions by allowing environmental distractions to capture their interest and take them off track.

**Unit III**

**SPEAKING:**

Becoming an effective public speaker is not an easy task to accomplish. Being an effective public speaker encompasses a lot more than people might assume. An effective speaker needs to be able to get his or her information across while also keeping the audience entertained and engaged. This is not as easy as it may sound! How can you get an audience interested in what you have to say and keep them interested? How can you connect to the audience in a way that allows them to relate to you and understand your story? In order to be an effective speaker, these are the five qualities that are a must.

**Confidence.** Confidence is huge when it comes to public speaking. Being confident in your delivery will allow you to be seen as an expert on your topic. Your audience will be more likely to trust you and therefore, trust the material that you are putting out there. Confidence makes you credible, knowledgeable, and believable. In order to

truly show confidence, you have to be confident enough to be yourself during your presentation. If you can be yourself in front of an audience, they are going to be more likely to feel like they can relate to you. If you try to act differently than you usually do, you may come off as insincere, and the audience will be less likely to feel connected to you or your information.

**Passion.** Why would an audience want to hear about your story if you yourself don't seem passionate about it? Let your audience know why you do what you do. Why do you love what you do and why do you want to share your message? If an audience can see and feel your passion, they will be more interested in hearing what you have to say.

**Ability to be succinct.** Even if you're one of the most entertaining and engaging public speakers, it's important to keep your presentation short and to the point. The attention span of your audience isn't long. You have to get their attention fast and keep their attention by moving through your presentation smoothly and effectively. If your presentation is longer than twenty minutes, you may want to consider breaking the presentation into smaller segments. Each segment can be a little different or involve audience interaction so that you are keeping them on their feet.

**Ability to tell a story.** A presentation is more effective and engaging when it doesn't feel like a presentation. Know how to tell your story to your audience. Give them the context for all of the information you are sharing. Rather than simply sharing facts and formal pieces of information, share your experiences and your stories that have lead you to where you are. If it isn't your own story, share other stories or experiences from history or from people that you know. Stories help people retain more information because they are more engaged with your presentation.

**Audience awareness.** Make sure before going into your presentation that you know the audience that you're presenting to. You should know who they are and what they do. By knowing this information, you'll be better able to connect to them and present to them in a way that you feel they would respond to and learn from best.

Demonstrating these qualities as a public speaker can make or break a presentation. When planning a presentation, think about what you would respond to. Think about if you would be excited about and engaged with your presentation and the information you're providing. In order to be an effective speaker, you have to be willing to step out of the box in order to connect, relate to, and engage with your audience. Make sure your story is one that your audience will want to hear and will remember long after the presentation is over.

**Objective:** This study investigated speech production outcomes and the factors influencing the outcomes in children who had 4 to 6 yr of experience with a multichannel cochlear implant. Production variables examined included speech intelligibility, accuracy of consonant and vowel production, percentage of plosives and fricatives produced, duration of sentences, percentage of time involved in

communication breakdowns during a communication sample, and responses to a speech usage questionnaire.

**Design:** 181 children between the ages of 8 and 9 yr who received a multichannel cochlear implant before age 5 yr participated as subjects. Independent variables were the amount and type of educational intervention and intervening variables were distributed across child, family and implant characteristics. Multiple regression analyses provided a measure of the amount of variance associated with speech production skills accounted for by the intervening and independent variables.

**Results:** Performance for the key words in the speech intelligibility measured averaged 63.5% for the group of children. Accuracy of phoneme production was higher for consonants (68.0%) than for vowels (61.6%) for the group. More plosives were present for acoustic analyses (91.6%) than were fricatives (78.4%). Duration for the speech intelligibility sentences averaged 2572.3 msec. Communication breakdowns occurred on average 14.5% of the time involved in a language sample. Significant predictors of high levels of oral communication skills included higher nonverbal intelligence, gender, longer use of SPEAK processing strategy, a fully active electrode array, greater dynamic range, and greater growth of loudness. The primary rehabilitative factors contributing to high levels of oral communication were an emphasis on oral-aural communication and classrooms that emphasized dependence on speech and listening.

**Conclusions:** Speech production performance in children with cochlear implants is influenced by nonverbal intelligence, gender, implant characteristics including the length of time using the newest speech processing strategies, and educational programs emphasizing oral-aural communication. Factors previously thought to be major contributors to speech production performance, such as age of onset of deafness and age of implantation, did not appear to play significant roles in predicting levels of speech production performance.

**B). Conversational skills**

Conversation skills refer to a collective group of skills needed to communicate effectively with another person. They allow you to understand and be understood by others. More than that, though, conversation skills allow you to connect with people and build strong relationships.

People who are strong conversationalists appear smooth and charismatic when they talk and others are often drawn to this behavior. Understanding the importance of developing conversational skills for the workplace, here are some tips for improving your own skills:

**1. Listen actively to others**

Listening shows that we're interested in the other person and what they have to say. Listening is as vital as speaking since a conversation should consist of sharing information. Practice active listening by paying attention, asking clarifying questions and repeating the message back to the speaker.

**2. Look for nonverbal cues**

Nonverbal communication is just as important as the words the person chooses. For example, you might nod your head "*yes*" or shake your head "*no*." Leaning forward slightly could indicate you want to hear them better. It's important the message you send is consistent—both verbally and nonverbally.

**Related: Nonverbal Communication Skills**

**3. Have empathy**

Empathy is vital. Put yourself in the other person's shoes. Try to see their point of view. Statements sucH can help build trust. Respect the other person, even when you disagree.

Be polite and professional. People may forget what you say, but they will not forget how you made them feel. Be empathetic. Show them by your words and actions that they matter.

**4. Pay attention to details**

People with strong conversation skills take notice of details that the average person might not notice and bring attention to those details during the conversation. For example, you may notice that the person you're speaking with has a slight accent or is wearing an interesting ring.

These are small details you could bring into your conversation to show the other party that they have your undivided attention. Offer compliments related to these small details.

**5. Offer interesting insights**

People with good conversation skills can frequently tell you things you didn't know and find interesting. Listen to podcasts. Read books and industry magazines. Learn what you can about your industry so that when you are in a situation where you're discussing your organization, you will offer in-depth knowledge on the industry and any new trends.

**6. Talk slowly**

People who are good conversationalists often act as though they have an abundance of time and as though there is no place else they would rather be. They take their time when they speak and often reflect on what they will say before they speak. This makes

them appear centered and collected. Model this method of speaking to come off the same way.

**7. Use the right words**

The ability to communicate well with others has a lot to do with finding the right words to convey precise feelings or thoughts. Work to constantly develop your vocabulary and practice communicating as accurately as possible. By expanding your vocabulary, you will express yourself more easily.

**Do you need help with your resume?**

YesNo

The importance of conversation skills at work

Regardless of the industry, the ability to communicate effectively with supervisors, colleagues and support staff is essential.

Employees in the digital age must know how to effectively transfer and receive messages in person and via phone, email and social media. Strong conversation skills also allow you to be highly memorable and effective when networking, which can create opportunities for professional growth and career advancement that might have been otherwise unavailable.

Some specific ways that conversation skills can impact employee performance in the workplace is by:

**Alleviating conflict:** Making adjustments in how you communicate with team members can often reduce conflicts

**Increasing employee engagement:** Conversation skills allow you to better understand the needs of employees and creates a more positive work environment

**Creating a more productive workforce:** With strong conversation skills, a leader can influence their team and better engage team members to fully understand the talents and skills of their workforce.

**10 Ways to Improve Your Communication Skills**

Effective communication is the key to landing the job and thriving.

Years ago, The Conference Board of Canada, an independent, not-for-profit applied research organization, developed the Employability Skills 2000+, which lists the critical skills that employees need to succeed in the workplace. Communication skills, tops the list of fundamental skills needed to succeed in the workplace.

A decade-and-a-half later, with the rise of social media networking and texting, communication is becoming more casual, even in situations where more formal ways of communicating are required. What this means is that people from the younger generation, may not know or even understand the importance of effective communication skills in the workplace. When you take a look at the greatest leaders, one of the traits they possess, is the ability to communicate effectively, which underscores the importance of communication skills.

There are specific things to do that can improve your communication skills:

1. Listen, listen, and listen. People want to know that they are being heard. Really listen to what the other person is saying, instead of formulating your response. Ask for clarification to avoid misunderstandings. At that moment, the person speaking to you should be the most important person in your life. Another important point is to have one conversation at a time. This means that if you are speaking to someone on the phone, do not respond to an email, or send a text at the same time. The other person will know that she doesn't have your undivided attention.
2. Who you are talking to matters. It is okay to use acronyms and informal language when you are communicating with a buddy, but if you are emailing or texting your boss, "Hey," "TTYL" or any informal language, has no place in your message. You cannot assume that the other person knows what the acronym means. Some acronyms have different meanings to different people, do you want to be misunderstood? Effective communicators target their message based on who they are speaking to, so try to keep the other person in mind, when you are trying to get your message across.
3. Body language matters. This is important for face-to-face meetings and video conferencing. Make sure that you appear accessible, so have open body language. This means that you should not cross your arms. And keep eye contact so that the other person knows that you are paying attention.
4. Check your message before you hit send. Spell and grammar checkers are lifesavers, but they are not foolproof. Double check what you have written, to make sure that your words are communicating the intended message.
5. Be brief, yet specific. For written and verbal communication, practice being brief yet specific enough, that you provide enough information for the other person to understand what you are trying to say. And if you are responding to an email, make sure that you read the entire email before crafting your response. With enough practice, you will learn not to ramble, or give way too much information.
6. Write things down. Take notes while you are talking to another person or when you are in a meeting, and do not rely on your memory. Send a follow-up email to make sure that you understand what was being said during the conversation.
7. Sometimes it's better to pick up the phone. If you find that you have a lot to say, instead of sending an email, call the person instead. Email is great, but sometimes it is easier to communicate what you have to say verbally.

8. Think before you speak. Always pause before you speak, not saying the first thing that comes to mind. Take a moment and pay close attention to what you say and how you say it. This one habit will allow you to avoid embarrassments.
9. Treat everyone equally. Do not talk down to anyone, treating everyone with respect. Treat others as your equal.
10. Maintain a positive attitude and smile. Even when you are speaking on the phone, smile because your positive attitude will shine through and the other person will know it. When you smile often and exude a positive attitude, people will respond positively to you.

Communicating effectively is a teachable skill, therefore following a few of the tips outlined above, will enable you to hone up on your communication skills.

# C). Strategies of Good Conversation

One thing my CELTA course skimmed over was how to develop learners' conversation strategies.

There seems to be a good amount of focus on conversation strategies in recent coursebooks. However, at times I find these can be problematic. Models of effective convo strategies/techniques can be naff sometimes. Where there are no models, and instead there are tip boxes for *maybe* using a convo strategy during a task, these can lack detail. They require the teacher to elaborate quite a bit. While the teacher notes can help, you might find (as I do on occasions) that there's a bit of a mismatch. I.e. the language that is anticipated to come up during the task isn't actually needed/is needed but is already known/needs to be built on.

So, are there better ways of introducing conversation strategies to learners than through coursebook activities? Pfff, yeah! I mean, the need for convo strategies often emerges naturally during the course of lessons. The key thing as a new CELTA graduate is to get your ear in…There may be loads of opportunities to upgrade learners' conversation skills, you've just got to know what to listen for. So, for recent CELTA grads, here's a brief list of things that learners might not be doing during classroom conversation, but would be really useful skills for them to acquire…

**1 Backchannelling**

Easily top of the list. Here's a very brief explanation of backchanneling from ELT Notebook. Basically, reactions to a speaker to show engagement – 'yeah', 'really?', 'oh', etc. While you're at it, you might want to highlight to learners that it's important to react sometimes not only to show your listening, but to show you care! Like this tumbleweed moment in my class from last week:

*Me: Sorry I missed the class yesterday. I had to stay at home because my kid was sick.*
*Students: …*
*Me: Sick. Like, pretty ill actually.*
*Students: …*
*Me: I had to take him to hospital……..*
*Students: …*
*Me: Anyway, today's lesson is called, funnily enough, 'Listening with interest'*

**2 Follow-up questions**

Seem to go hand-in-hand with backchannelling.

*Me: My kid was sick.*
*Student: Oh no. How is he now?*
*Me: Yeah, a bit better thanks.*

Encourage learners to think of a natural Wh-question to follow-up on what the speaker says.

**3 Extending your speaking turn**

Again, connected to the above a bit. I tend to cover this a lot in IELTS training, but in our general classes I often use the prompt QAAA when learners are discussing a topic.

*Student A: Question*
*Student B: Answer, Add, Ask*

Depending on the topic, that 'Add' bit often involves justifying a point of view…

**4 Fillers**

'you know', 'I mean', 'Um'…

Raising awareness of these really is an ongoing thing as you need lots and lots of examples. I do try to use them too in class… Well, what I mean is, I don't always grade my language in such a way that I avoid them. That gives learners more examples of authentic use (if classroom language is considered authentic), and helps to develop other *listening* strategies like identifying essential/non-essential info.

**5 Discourse markers in general**

Written a bit about them here, which I guess I still agree with. Ah man, sequencing/convo flow! That's one thing my learners struggle with because they so naturally revert to their L1.

(I get why, not a criticism at all. Still, if I had a baht for every time I've heard 'leew khor' from my Thai learners… hehe).

**6 Acknowledging others' ideas/opinions**

I guess this is part of backchanneling. Important stuff. Listen out for those moments, like in debates, which are like…

*Student A: I think…*
*Student B: Well, for me…*
*Student C: In my opinion…*

You could start simple, suggesting responses like 'Hmmm', 'Maybe' (that passes judgement though so depends on context), and build to things like 'That's a good/fair point', 'I see your point' etc.

**7 Active listening – summarising**

'Okay, so [Student A] you think that [blah], and [Student B] you said that [blah]. Someone also mentioned…' etc. The thing is, I mean, with adult learners you're not really teaching the skill of summarising, as they would do it if the context required it. You're just giving the process language or upgrading their ability to do this naturally in English.

**8 Hedging language**
The hedging needed by my learners *tends to be*…

Hedging like when you're speculating: It might be the case that… Making generalisations (and highlighting that these are subjective): tend to, seem to It's really worth drawing attention to the latter (I think) -listen out for opportunities to do so!

**9 Repairing breakdowns**

'Sorry, I'm confused…', 'Sorry, what was that?', 'I…er… I'm a bit lost! What were you saying?' Things like that. Key thing to listen for is if learners just use 'What?'. I mean, it can be effective, but also a bit curt at times, so a few other phrases might help.

**10 Clarifying**

'Do you mean…?', 'So, are you saying that…?' etc. Sometimes you've got to listen pretty carefully for moments when these phrases are needed… Actually, pronunciation

is a big part of this one too. Listen out for opportunities to teach learners useful stress/intonation patterns.

A: I'd ban mobile phones in schools. They are a massive distraction.

B: You mean you'd ban *all* mobile phones in schools? Like, even *teacher's* phones?!

A: Oh, sorry. No, I meant students' phones.

**11 Vague language**

I have great editors at One Stop English. Really. I include lots of vague language in my listening texts for the Everyday Life series, and the editors are like 'yeah, why not? It's natural enough, and it's useful'. Again, vague language can be a good chance to develop listening skills (essential/non-essential). I recommend taking Ken Paterson's course on Spoken Grammar as he does a good job of introducing vague language, sharing tips on how to teach it and, you know, stuff like that.

So that's a starting point for things to listen out for. If, as a new CELTA grad, you're struggling with confidence in addressing learners emerging needs (conversation-wise), my advice would be this: Start by making a conversational/speaking skill the main aim of your lesson – kind of the opposite to what I said before! Choose something that you can only plan loosely, as the content is unpredictable. Example:

# B). Improving Self Expression& Fluency

**Telling anecdotes**

This is an important convo skill, and involves lots of interesting features, like historic present tense, engaging listener with phrases like ‘right?’, ‘so, you know, blah blah’. They’ll need a lot of strategies here (backchanneling, keeping audience interest and engagement, reacting, effective pausing) so there is loads for you as a teacher to experiment with. Get students to repeat their anecdotes (around whatever topic) multiple times, and upgrade between each repetition with a conversation strategy. Hey, not too many though! Don’t get carried away.

We all have our own unique quirks and traits, and we all have our own preferences and style for sharing pieces of ourselves with those around us.

You likely have a different level of sharing comfort with each person in your life—like a sort of security clearance in which those closest to you have a “Level 5” clearance while acquaintances have a “Level 1” clearance. How we share and express ourselves to others forms the basis of our personality, as understood by everyone but us, and sets the tone for our entire lives. It’s a vital aspect of life to pay attention to, especially if you want to feel more understood and more in tune with the people you care about.

The way that we share ourselves is known as self-expression, and it turns out there are a lot of ways to do it. There are few “wrong” ways of expressing yourself, but there are some things you can do that give you a better chance of hearing and being heard than

others. Read on to learn how to more effectively express yourself to others, get in touch with your authentic self, and enhance your self-expression skills.

Before you read on, we thought you might like to download our three Self-Compassion Exercises for free. These detailed, science-based exercises will not only help you increase the compassion and kindness you show yourself but will also give you the tools to help your clients, students or employees show more compassion to themselves.

This Article Contains:

Self-Expression Theory in Psychology

The Importance of Self-Expression

Examples of Self-Expression

How to Improve Self-Expression Skills

Techniques for Developing Self-Expression

Activities to Increase Self-Expression for Adults

Project Ideas and Worksheets (PDF)

Self-Expression Through Photography, Art, Music, Dance, Fashion and Poetry

Does Social Media Promote Self-Expression?

Books on Self-Expression

13 Self-Expression Quotes

A Take-Home Message

References

## What is the Meaning of Self-Expression? A Definition

I think we all have a pretty good handle on what self-expression is, but let's see how the experts define it:

This is an intuitive definition—self-expression is, at its core, the action of expressing yourself, and it can take a wide variety of forms. You can use your words, your facial expressions, your body, your movements, clothing, actions, and possessions to express your authentic inner self.

Although the idea is simple, it seems that few fully grasp the importance of self-expression. We are all so bogged down with messages about how we should look, think, speak, and act; what we should eat and drink and study and do for fun; who we

should associate with and who we should love or despise; and, indeed, who we should be deep down.

These constant missives about what we ought to do and who we ought to be can make it difficult to let go of expectations and simply be ourselves.

The last paragraph may have resonated with you—as it resonates with me—but as we'll see later, the value we have for self-expression is not a universally shared value.

**Self-Expression Theory in Psychology**

There is no one single theory of self-expression in psychology, but there are several explorations and hypotheses surrounding this subject in the literature.

For example, Kim and Ko (2007) note that self-expression is one of the most highly-regarded and venerated values in Western civilization due to the near-deification of "the individual" in our society. Not only is self-expression a vital practice of Western culture, it is also baked into the very roots of psychology. After all, psychology is all about the study of the mind, including the self, others, and groups of people.

The way we learn about the mind is through the expression of individuals—verbally or otherwise (Kim & Ko, 2007).

While those of us in the West have embraced individualistic norms and practices, including self-expression, other cultures have upheld collectivist values and—in some cases—placed little to no value on individualism. For instance, the Arab world is less prone to individualistic views and more likely to value tradition, religion, and authority (Inglehart et al., 2014).

**Self-Expression Values**

The differences across cultures and countries in the values they hold are fascinating; as noted above, countries in the Middle East are generally at the opposite end of the spectrum from Western countries on the two major axes of values:

1. Traditional versus secular-rational values
2. Survival values versus self-expression values (Inglehart et al., 2014)

Countries in North America and Western Europe generally fall on the secular-rational end (although the US and Ireland are two outliers when it comes to religion and tradition) and the self-expression end of the spectrums.

This indicates that Western countries tend to place less importance on traditional family values, religion, and obedience and more importance on environmental protection, social justice, and tolerance of different viewpoints and ways of life (Inglehart et al., 2014).

East Asia countries generally fall in the secular-rational/survival values section (as seen below), meaning they do not place as much importance on tradition and religion, but they place great value on economic and physical security.

The Inglehart-Welzel World Cultural Map – World Values Survey 7 (2022). Source: http://www.worldvaluessurvey.org/

In some places, self-expression values might be considered "indicative of egoism and weak social capital" instead of the key to happiness and actualization that many Western countries consider them to be (Welzel, 2010). Needless to say, the value placed on self-expression varies widely across cultures and countries.

Not only are the differences in self-expression values interesting, they raise a good point: can there be a comprehensive theory of self-expression that encompasses and explains self-expression across the globe?

Any Western-centric theory of self-expression will likely propose that a good dose of self-expression is not only healthy but necessary for fulfillment; on the other hand, a theory from an Asian or Middle Eastern country will likely place little importance on individual self-expression and may even see it as a deviant behavior!

**Download 3 Free Self Compassion Exercises**

These detailed, science-based exercises will equip you to help others create a kinder and more nurturing relationship with themselves.

**The Importance of Self-Expression**

Related to our discussion above, the importance of self-expression will vary depending on your location and the culture you are steeped in. As the World Values Survey showed, individualism is not highly valued in many countries. This fact makes the sentence below—a pretty tame idea by Western standards—anything from mildly strange to outright laughable in another context.

*"The journey of self-discovery is the most important journey we can take"*
(De la Huerta, 2014).

In many cultures, a journey of self-discovery would be considered odd, unusual, a waste of time, or even selfish; the people might say something like, "Why spend your time and effort on getting to know yourself? Just ask your family—they'll tell you exactly who you are!"

However, given the largely Western audience of positive psychology, we'll focus on the importance of self-expression in this context.

De la Huerta's (2014) article provides a good brief overview of why self-expression is so important in our society. He argues that self-expression is a vital piece of the puzzle that is fulfillment in life; it allows us to be our best selves, reach our full potential, and make valuable contributions to the world we live in.

Authentic self-expression is how we embrace who we are, all the way from the positive traits and acts we keep on the surface to the darker and less valued pieces of ourselves that we bury deep down.

*"Neuroscience is teaching us that 'self-expression' might be one – if not the most important ways for people to connect, navigate and grow with each other."*
Judith Glaser

Research Judith Glaser agrees on the importance of self-expression; she notes that authentic self-expression not only encourages us to be the best we can be, it allows us to work effectively with others. When we open up and express ourselves, we move from what she calls a state of protection (coddling our ego and manning our inner walls to protect ourselves) to a state of partnering (being open to sharing yourself with others and vice versa).

According to Glaser, this state is where we get our best and most innovative work done. Acting in alignment with our authentic selves activates our prefrontal cortex, giving us greater access to our higher-order abilities like creative and innovative thinking, problem-solving, and planning.

Two artists and educators, Jay M. Hanes and Eleanor Weisman, agree that self-expression is not only important for our relationship with ourselves and our relationships with others, it's also vital for our work. They propose that we learn about ourselves through expressing ourselves, reflecting on our core self and engaging in creative learning that will benefit us in all walks of life and all disciplines and industries (Hanes & Weisman, 2016).

**Examples of Self-Expression**

Everywhere you look you can see examples of self-expression.

This may sound like an exaggeration, but it's not—people around you are expressing themselves every day in many ways, all you need to do is look for it.

Common ways that people in your life might express themselves include:

- Sharing details about their day and how it made them feel.
- Wearing an off-trend or outdated item of clothing, not to be cool and unique, but just because they like it.

- Playing guitar on the street without a hat, cup, or other container set up to take donations.
- Yelling to express their frustration about traffic or other hindrances to getting from A to B.
- Employing body language (either consciously or unconsciously) that tells you exactly how someone feels about him- or her-self, whether it's tall and proud, slumped and defeated, or anywhere in between.

If you were so inclined, I'm sure you could come up with a list of 100 acts of expression that you saw in the last week alone. That's probably not necessary—I'm sure you have a good grasp on what self-expression is—but it's important to be reminded how often people share themselves with us and how often we have the opportunity to share ourselves with others in our daily lives.

**How to Improve Self-Expression Skills**

As with most skills, the best way to improve your self-expression skills is to practice them! Self-expression skills include—but are not limited to—the following:

- Speaking
- Writing
- Body language
- Artistic endeavors (creating music, dancing, etc.)

Author and student learning guru John Ramos agrees; in an answer to the question-and-answer forum Quora, he provides the following pieces of advice (2016):

1. Write (almost) everyday… It forces you to find the right words and expressions to convey your message.
2. Emulate your favorite authors' styles. (Note: you could also emulate your favorite poets, dancers, orators, musicians, etc.).
3. Never lose a chance to speak in public.
4. Apply winning formulas (particularly for public speaking, as there are many tricks and "secret weapons" to help you succeed).

All of the exercises, techniques, activities, and strategies listed below will give you great opportunities to practice your own self-expression skills!

**Techniques for Developing Self-Expression**

If you're looking for ways to boost children's self-expression skills, there are a lot of engaging and seemingly indirect ways to familiarize themselves with expressing themselves and understanding others.

Peggy Schmidt from Scholastic Parents proposes the following seven strategies (and several techniques to implement these strategies) to encourage a child to build their self-expression skills:

1. Teach your child to interpret spoken and body language.
2. a. Look at photographs of people expressing different emotions and discuss them.
   b. Cut out a cardboard frame to act as a "mirror" and have your child(ren) mimic your expression and identify it.
3. c. Use everyday situations in your home to reinforce these lessons.
4. d. Make a game of identifying the emotions that go with a particular tone of voice.
5. Reinforce the concept of "personal space" by encouraging your child to:
   a. Stay at arm's length when he or she is talking to someone.
6. b. Make sure there's space between him or her and other children when sitting together.
   c. Avoid hugging someone he or she doesn't know well.
7. d. Refrain from intruding on another child's space by touching, pinching, or physically annoying him or her.
8. Explain the meaning of idiomatic expressions (explain jokes, idioms, puns, "turns of phrases," etc.).
9. Work on the art of conversation.
10. a. Initiate conversations with your child, particularly when there are no salient distractions around.
    b. When you don't understand something your child says, ask your child what he or she means.
    c. Encourage your child to ask you questions and respond attentively to them.
11. d. Make good eye contact and ask your child to do the same.
12. e. Encourage your child to stay in control of his or her body when he is talking—no fidgeting or squirming!
13. f. Work at having successively longer conversations as he or she gets better at self-expression.
    g. Have conversations with your child about things beyond routine, everyday stuff.
14. Model behavior that teaches the smart way to ask for help or a favor.
15. a. Explain what the favor is.
16. b. Rehearse what you're going to say when you ask for the favor.
17. c. Have your child listen to your conversation.
18. Demonstrate the power of "please" and "thank you" as more than just good manners, but excellent tools.
19. Teach your child how to listen and follow directions.
20. a. Get his or her attention through touch as well as your voice.
21. b. Be specific about what you want him or her to do.
22. c. Check for understanding when you ask your child to do something.
    d. Compliment your child on following the directions and successfully completing the task

With pre-teens and teens, you may want to upgrade your techniques and make things more organic. Follow these 10 tips from the Scholastic Parents Staff to encourage self-expression in your pre-teens and teens:

1. Encourage your child to dance to express him- or herself (a dance-focused video game might be helpful here).
2. Help your child design a website or blog to share his or her thoughts and feelings with family and friends, or include your child in the process of writing a family newsletter.
3. Do a creative and expressive craft with your child, like creating jewelry or painting something without any constraints.
4. Celebrate your child's style by allowing him or her to dress however they'd like (given that it's age-appropriate).
5. Support your child engaging in sports, whether solo sports, team sports, or both.
6. Encourage your child to mentor younger children to practice their own skills and do a good deed.
7. Give your child a camera and let him or her snap away!
8. Get outdoors and do a nature-oriented activity together (e.g., take a walk, go for a hike, do some gardening).
9. Ask your child to take you on a guided tour of his or her classroom, the library, or somewhere else he or she spends a lot of time.
10. Help your child make a video documentary about him- or herself, including their current likes and dislikes, strengths, interests, and passions (Eulberg, n.d.).

If you're looking for techniques to enhance your own self-expression skills, there are some helpful general tips that can give you some guidance. Give these six tips a try:

- Speak your truth in the moment. Instead of looking back on a conversation and wishing you had been more honest and authentic, commit to being more honest and authentic in the moment. Promise yourself to speak your truth when the opportunity arises, but make sure to speak it with love and **kindness.**
- Widely define yourself. As psychiatrist Thomas Szasz notes, "…the self is not something that one finds. It is something that one creates." Make sure that your definitions aren't overly narrow or limiting and keep yourself open to new experiences, talents, interests, passions, and opportunities.
- Engage in creative techniques. Use techniques that harness your creativity to expand your potential and enhance your life. Try keeping a daily journal in which you write about whatever comes to mind, keeping an idea book that you carry with you all the time, creating mind maps to help you problem-solve, practicing brainstorming, and creating vision boards to motivate you to follow your dreams.

- Acquire self-knowledge – Know who you are. Don't let yourself get too caught up in all of life's little worries; take a break from your daily grind once in a while and assess your life and your feelings about it. Use introspection and reflection to make sure you never become a stranger to yourself.
- Pursue wants and passions voraciously. If your passions and dreams have become victims to the day-to-day stressors, dedicate yourself to keeping them off the metaphorical "back burner." Make time to pursue your dreams and feed your passions—you won't regret it!
- Develop a keen sense of reality. Your head may venture into the clouds, but your feet should stay firmly on the ground; keep in touch with reality and face your disappointments, setbacks, and unpleasant experiences head-on ("How to Live with Full Self-Expression", n.d.).

These are somewhat general tips, but truly committing to them will help you become the master of your own self-expression. For some more specific, practical ideas on improving your self-expression, read on.

**Activities to Increase Self-Expression for Adults**

Aside from trying some of the suggestions and techniques listed above, you may want to try some exercises and activities designed to enhance your self-expressiveness.

This section includes 15 activities that you may find useful (plus a link to 70 more!).

To work on improving your capacity for self-expression and encourage your practice of being authentically you, you may find this impressively long list of 75 group activities from the Expressive Therapist website helpful. It includes activities like:

- *Inner Child*: Draw yourself as a child on your paper. Add images and words to give this child everything that it needs, including a supportive nurturing parent.
- *Inside – Outside Bags/Boxes*: Decorate a bag or box with images and words on the outside to represent the qualities you show to the world. Decorate the inside of the bag or box with images and words that represent the inner qualities that are hidden to most people.
- *Inspired Poem*: Think of a quote that is meaningful to you and write it at the top of a piece of paper. Add your own lines below it that expand on the quote in the way you

understand it – continue for the rest of the page. Find someone in the group to read your poem for you as you use movement or gesture to express the meaning of your poem.

- *Four Elements of You*: Discussion: Passion gives us the will to live and gives shape to our lives.

  Fold your paper into four sections. Label each section, The Earth of Me, The Air of Me, The Fire of Me, and The Water of Me. Use image and color to express your passion in life as symbolized by the four elements.
- *Bardic Circle*: Sitting in a circle, everyone takes a turn sharing something with the group, such as performing a song, a dance, a poem, a joke, or an interesting fact, or teaching a new skill. Everyone is encouraged to be supportive and attentive when others share.

If you're working your way through addiction, rehabilitation, recovery, these activities from Summit Behavioral Health (2015) might help:

1. Listen to music to help you identify your feelings; if you are in a group, share out what you learned.
2. Take a mindful walk (stay aware of yourself and your surroundings, make observations about your environment, and avoid judgment as much as possible).
3. Write a new ending to a previous event, particularly an event that involved conflict, bad decisions, or mistakes on your part. This will help you learn how to make better choices and stay more optimistic.
4. Build, create, or restore something to encourage yourself on your own journey toward a healthier, happier you.
5. Create a visual journal using signs, symbols, drawings, or anything else to express your feelings aside from words.

If you're interested in enhancing your self-expression specifically in the workplace, Judith Glaser has some great suggestions (2016):

1. Consider taking on a project like Glaser's Children's World, in which she and her team collected stories and pictures from schoolchildren, compiled them into a book, and actually published it (side note: it included material from over 500 students!).
2. Kick off a meeting by asking people to share a recent personal story and a business story that they are enthusiastic or excited about.
3. Complete the "What I Respect About You and What I Need From You" exercise to get to know your team better and identify strengths, needs, likes and dislikes, and how to avoid certain pitfalls with your colleagues.

4. Collect your team's success stories and publish them in a book, pamphlet, or brochure.
5. Publish your organization's success stories on your company intranet and solicit advice and suggestions from your organization's members on how to achieve future success.

## EXPRESSING FEELINGS THROUGH MUSIC

Through music, we can evoke complex emotions and create mood states that might be difficult to categorize as positive or negative by only using words. Even before a baby is born, exposing a fetus to music helps the brain develop, calms and soothes, brings up emotions of love and joy, and strengthens the mother-child relationship (UNICEF, 2022).

Scientist John Stuart Reid (2019) discovered that music can even support our bodies to heal naturally by awakening our red blood cells. An increased red blood cell amount leads to a decrease in chronic pain, high blood pressure, poor immune system, stress, depression, and traumas.

Ask your client to write down three songs that describe how they are feeling at the moment. Reflect on the following questions with your client:

When you hear this song, what comes to your mind?

How does this song make you feel?

Which part of the song is the most important to you?

This exercise aims to help your clients communicate feelings and concerns by using music as a multi-dimensional medium to "translate" personal experiences. Because your client will identify and describe the upcoming emotions, emotional awareness can be further developed through this technique.

### Project Ideas and Worksheets

Those fond of making lists, checking boxes, drawing things out, and any other form of expression that involves using a pen and paper might find these projects and worksheets especially useful. There are also a few worksheets that you can use with your child to encourage their own capacity for self-expression. Read on to get some ideas!

#### Your Pet Worksheet

This worksheet encourages kids to think about how they express their thoughts and ideas. It can be used to encourage them to consider what details are important and which are superfluous, help them figure out how to best get the words into their head

onto paper, and show them how to tie it all together into a clear, comprehensive narrative.

First, your child can fill in the "Main Idea" bubble in the center, writing about their pet, noting what kind of pet they have and what is most important to know about that pet.

Next, they can work on filling in the supportive details. The prompts can help them figure out what they should be writing and help them comes up with more ideas; these prompts include:

- How long have you had your pet?
- What is your pet's name?
- Describe your pet's personality—playful, loving, quiet, funny, loyal?
- What does your pet look like? Describe your pet.

**All About Me Worksheet**

This is another worksheet for kids that is simple, easy to complete, but helpful for your child's writing and self-expression skills. It can also be helpful for handwriting practice, engaging in creative thinking, and breaking the ice with a new classmate.

First, the worksheet asks for just the basics:

- The child's name
- The child's place of birth

Next, the worksheet moves on to the more individual aspects of preferences and interests:

- Favorite colors
- Favorite hobbies
- Favorite foods to eat
- Favorite place to visit
- Favorite movie

Finally, the last three prompts are where your child can really get thoughtful, creative, and personal:

- "I laugh and smile when…"
- "I will make the world a better place by…"
- "My dream is to…"

To download this worksheet for use with your own child, click here (this worksheet is hosted on Education.com, which requires a free membership for the use of some of their resources).

**What Makes Us Alike & Different**

A final worksheet for kids focuses on similarities and differences between the child and others. Completing this worksheet can help your child not only learn more about other people, other cultures, and other ways of life, but it can also help him get to know himself better.

First, the worksheet explains that there are tons of people in the world, but we're all different. We might come from different cultures, countries, or backgrounds, but we all have at least a few things in common.

Next, the child is instructed to compare him- or herself to a friend or family member and consider these questions:

1. What makes you alike?
2. What makes you different?

In the space below these instructions is a table split into three columns, one with each of the following headings:

- What makes you different?
- How you are alike
- What makes your friend different?

For each column, your child should think of some things that apply. How is she different from her friend? Where do the differences come from? Are they superficial, or pretty big differences?

Next, she can think about how she and her friend are alike. What do they have in common? What can they agree on or relate to one another about?

When your child has completed this worksheet, he will be more knowledgeable about different cultures, backgrounds, and lifestyles than before, and hopefully on his way to being tolerant and friendly to all.

**Self-Expression Worksheet**

This worksheet comes from SpiritSpring Coaching and offers you an opportunity to learn more about self-expression, get some suggestions on how to practice it more often, and work on engaging your self-expression muscles, so to speak. It references religion since SpiritSpring is a religious organization, but the activity itself does not require faith in any religion or spiritual being to successfully complete it.

First, you will respond to 10 statements about your current self-expression on a 3-point scale (seldom true, sometimes true, and often true). These statements are:

- I am inspired by and through authentic self-expression.

- I communicate what is in my heart.
- I express wholeness; there is no part of me or my life that is not fully embraced.
- My own words and actions reflect consciousness and clarity.
- My communication is honest, timely, and complete. I do not deceive, delay, or diminish when I speak my truth.
- I know when I am expressing myself authentically and when I'm not.
- I invite honesty and truth-telling.
- I am aware of the impact of my words and actions.
- My words and actions contribute in a positive way to myself and others.
- There is integrity between who I am, what I say and how I act.

For each statement, you will pick a response on the scale mentioned above and also provide an example of the statement in action in your life.

Next, you will answer some questions and respond to some prompts to help you get even more in touch with yourself and how you generally express yourself. These questions and prompts are:

1. Describe a current situation in your life where you are being real.
2. What's at stake in that situation or relationship? What could you gain or lose?
3. Describe a current situation where you have not been being real?
4. What's at stake in that situation? What could you gain or lose?
5. What could you do to turn the second situation around, so that you're being real?

By completing this worksheet, you will have discovered your approximate level of skill and practice in self-expression, identified an area in which you are best at expressing yourself and an area in which you are lagging in self-expression and come up with a plan to work on your weaknesses when it comes to expressing yourself. That's a lot of punch to pack into one worksheet!

**The Five Messages Worksheet for Self-Expression and Self-Inquiry**

Finally, this worksheet from The Seven Challenges Workbook is a great way to work on your self-expression skills. It covers the five main "messages" or elements of self-expression and guides you through identifying and considering each one.

The idea is that there are five "I messages" that correspond to five elements of experiencing and communicate different things to those around you.

**Self-Expression Through Photography, Art, Music, Dance, Fashion and Poetry**

As you probably already picked up through this piece, self-expression can be practised in many different ways.

We often think of self-expression as involving speech and perhaps some actions as well—provided they are creative.

People have found wonderful outlets for self-expression through speaking and writing prose, but also through practicing photography, creating art, creating or sharing music, choreographing a dance routine (or coming up with some moves on the spot!), creating and/or wearing pieces that reflect your inner self, and crafting meaningful poems.

It's true that creative activities are often a great way to express yourself, but don't forget about the many other ways available to you! In truth, anytime you are behaving in accordance with your true, authentic self and doing anything other than sitting still, you are likely engaging in self-expression—although performance artists have certainly been able to express their thoughts and ideas through the act of simply sitting!

# B). b). English Pronunciation

## 6 tips for improving your English pronunciation

Any English language learner knows that often spelling isn't very helpful if we want to know how to correctly say a word. Take a look at this sentence, focusing on the words in bold - do you know how to pronounce them?

*"The man didn't feel very **comfortable** in his grey **suit**. He didn't enjoy wearing smart **clothes**, and when he wore them he felt a **subtle** difference in his personality."*

English spelling hasn't evolved much over time, but how we pronounce words has. This makes pronunciation a real challenge for language learners. But good pronunciation is not just 'how words and letters sound'; there are other equally important features to consider, like intonation (how the tone of voice changes during a sentence, going up or down), stress (which words and syllables have more 'weight' when we are speaking), and connected speech - how words can sound different when they are joined together in natural speech. All of these features contribute to good pronunciation - but don't confuse them with accent.

In the UK, the USA and other English speaking countries there are many, many different types of accents, but people with those different accents can all be considered to have correct pronunciation. When you are learning English you don't have to sound British or American. Good pronunciation means being understood; not necessarily sounding like you were born in New York or London. In fact, many native speakers love hearing English spoken with a Spanish, Italian or French accent! So, how can you work on your pronunciation so that people from all over the world can understand you easily, even if you retain your native accent? Here are six top tips for you to practice and perfect your pronunciation.

**1 - Listen!**

Listening to examples of authentic speech is the most obvious way to improve your own pronunciation. There are lots of ways to do this - watch a film in its original version, listen to podcasts about a topic that interests you in English (you could try the British Council English podcasts app here ), even listening to music can help. Try to notice the intonation that people use. You can add to this by 'shadowing'. Shadowing means listening to a short sentence or phrase, and then repeating it afterwards, trying to imitate the sounds, intonation and word stress and noticing how your mouth and tongue move when you speak.

3. **Record yourself.**

Once you have practiced shadowing, you could record yourself speaking - either repeating a short phrase that you have listened to, or doing a longer speaking task from a coursebook, like describing a picture. Listen back and make a note of any sounds that you have problems with - practice these words / sounds slowly and then record yourself again. Can you notice an improvement?

**3. Get to know the phonemic chart.**

The **I**nternational Phonetic Alphabet (IPA) is a visual representation of different sounds. It might look strange and it might feel like you are learning a whole new language, but it can really help you with pronunciation. All dictionaries have a phonetic transcription of words so that you know how to pronounce them. This is really helpful with English because as we have already seen, English spelling doesn't always correspond with its pronunciation. Think about the letters 'ough' in the words 'though', 'through', 'tough', 'ought'. It would be impossible to guess how to say those words without some help.

**4. Use a dictionary.**

As well as printed dictionaries which will give you a phonetic transcription of a word, there are lots of online dictionaries where you can click and listen to the word being spoken. A particularly good one is howjsay even the name of this website is a useful guide as to how to pronounce the common question 'How do you say...?' in a natural way. It's a great resource for checking how new words sound.

**5. Do some exercise!**

Different languages have different sounds, and our mouths adapt to those sounds. Some sounds are physically very difficult for us to make, as they don't exist in our native language. Just like when you are learning a new sport or dance move, it's important that you train your mouth to know how to form new sounds - the more you

practice the easier it gets. For example, lots of Spanish speakers have problems with the difference between the /b/ and /v/ sound. We make the /b/ sound by joining our lips together and then letting go. The /v/ sound is similar but your top teeth should touch your bottom lip before you let go. The more you practice this, the easier it gets - try saying " I'd like a very big beverage please"! The Sounds of English section on the BBC's Learning English site has a good selection of video tutorials which explain how to make different sounds and activities to practice them.

6. **Get to know your minimal pairs.**

Minimal pairs are words that have almost the exact same pronunciation, but with one sound that is different - for example, ship and sheep. The difference between the /I/ in 'ship' and the /i:/ in 'sheep' is the length of the vowel. This can be difficult to hear for many language learners, and comes up in lots of different words. The first step is to be able to tell the difference between the sounds when you hear them, them. You can listen to some can you hear the difference? Can you make the different sounds yourself?

Finally, don't feel bad if you still make mistakes with pronunciation - English is famously tricky. As far back as 1922, a Dutch language learner wrote a very long poem about the problems of English pronunciation called '- it may be chaotic, but with practice it can definitely get better!

## "Pronunciation" refers to the way in which we make the sound of words.

To pronounce words, we push air from our lungs up through our throat and vocal chords, through our mouth, past our tongue and out between our teeth and lips. (Sometimes air also travels through our nose.)

To change the sound that we are making, we mainly use the muscles of our mouth, tongue and lips to control the shape of our mouth and the flow of air. If we can control the shape of our mouth and the flow of air correctly, then our pronunciation is clearer and other people understand us more easily.

Speakers of different languages tend to develop different muscles of the mouth for pronunciation. When we speak a foreign language, our muscles may not be well developed for that language, and we will find pronunciation more difficult. By practising the foreign language pronunciation, our muscles develop and pronunciation improves.

As well as creating correct **vowel** and **consonant** sounds using the muscles of our mouth, tongue and lips, there are other important aspects of pronunciation, including:

- **word stress** - emphasis on certain syllables in a word
- **sentence stress** - emphasis on certain words in a sentence
- **linking** - joining certain words together
- **intonation** - the rise and fall of our voice as we speak.

English is infamous for its difficult pronunciation rules. Some rules are intuitive and are pronounced how you would expect them to be, but others need to be memorized and practiced.

Here are 25 English pronunciation rules to help you master tricky English words.

These rules focus on General American English pronunciation. They may be different for other English dialects such as British English, Australian English or South African English speakers.

**Rule 1:**

**Short words have short vowels**

Vowel sounds are commonly divided into short and long vowel sounds. While they may seem complicated, there are some rules for knowing when a vowel sound is short or long.

Short vowels always occur in short words. These are often one syllable and typically have three or four letters as in “cat”, “tin” and “bend”.

**Rule 2:**

**Two vowels side-by-side make a long vowel**

Two vowels beside each other are not uncommon in English, but they can be easily mastered with this simple trick.

Namely, when there are two different vowels beside each other, they generally make the long sound of the first vowel. For example, the word “meat” has the long *e* sound, the word “plain” has the long *a* sound and the word “goat” has the long *o* sound.

**Rule 3:**

**Keep vowels short before double consonants**

Double consonants don’t only have rules for how they are pronounced, but also play a role in how to pronounce the vowel that comes before them.

The rule is simple: the vowel that comes before double consonants is always in its short pronunciation. To see this, let’s look at the difference in pronunciation between the words “diner” and “dinner.”

The word “diner” has only one *n*, and the *i* is pronounced as a long vowel. Conversely, the word “dinner” has double *n*, so the *i* is pronounced as a short vowel.

**Rule 4:**

**Pronounce double consonants as a single letter**

Unlike some languages, double letters in English are not pronounced any different than single letters.

This is true for words that have double *ll*, *ss*, *ff*, *rr*, *pp*, *zz*, *dd* and *cc*. They are all pronounced as if they are singular such as the words “fuzz,” “occur,” or “fluff.”

**Rule 5:**

**Pronounce double consonant**

In General American English, there is one double consonant that is not pronounced like its singular counterpart. In fact, the double consonant *tt* gets reduced to what sounds like a *d* sound.

This can be seen in the pronunciation of the words “little” and “letter.”

**Rule 6:**

**If *E* is at the end of a word, it’s silent**

Sometimes English words can be confusing if they end an *e*. Many learners will want to include the *e* in their pronunciation, but it is actually silent.

Rather, the *e* causes the vowel before it to become long such as “ate,” “bite,” or “rope.”

**Rule 7:**

**Pronounce *C* like *S* when it’s followed by *I*, *E*, or *Y***

*C* makes more of an *S* sound when it is followed by *i, e,* or *y* such as words like "cite," "century" and *"*cycle."

**Rule 8:**

**Pronounce the word ending *TION* with a *SH* sound**

The word ending *tion* is tricky to pronounce for two reasons.

The first reason is that the *t* is not pronounced like a *t* at all. Instead, it is pronounced like a *sh* as in the word "shoe." Next, the vowels in the ending are reduced to a schwa. As a whole, *tion* ends up being pronounced more like "shun."

This gives us words like "tradition", "situation" and "position" that include the *sh* sound followed by a reduced schwa vowel.

**Rule 9:**

***G* and *K* are always silent before *N* at the beginning of a word**

Many languages have rules that every consonant must be pronounced, but English has many rules that make consonants silent in certain cases.

One of these rules is that when a word begins with a *k* or a *g* and then is immediately followed by an *n*, the *k* or *g* is not pronounced. Instead, it's almost as if the word started with a *n*. This can be seen in words such as "knee," "knock" and "gnarl."

**Rule 10:**

**Pronounce *S* like *Z* at the end of a word**

There are many situations where the letter *s* is pronounced like a *z* sound.

This happens when a word that ends in a *b, d, g, l, m, n, ng, r, th* or *v* becomes plural or an *s* is added.

Examples of this include the plural words "moms" or "kings" and the *s* in words like "there's" and "Michael's."

The *es* ending of plural words is also pronounced like a *z* as in the word "buses."

**Rule 11:**

**Pronounce *S* like *Z* between two vowels**

When *s* is between two vowel sounds, it is pronounced like a *z*. This gives us words like "phase," "music" and "please."

There are some exceptions to this rule, such as in the words "goose" and "chase."

**Rule 12:**

**Pronounce *X* like *GZ* before a stressed syllable**

By now, we know that *x* makes a *ks* sound as in "taxi" or "toxic." But this sound is only in unstressed syllables.

When *x* comes before a stressed syllable, it can make a *gz* sound as in "examine" or "exist."

**Rule 13:**

**Pronounce *X* like *Z* at the beginning of a word**

There is yet another way that *x* can be pronounced.

Rarely, it can make a *z* sound as in the words "xylophone" or "xenophobia." This pronunciation happens almost exclusively at the beginning of words (unless you're saying the word "x-ray").

**Rule 14:**

***Y* is both a consonant and a vowel**

*Y* is a unique letter in English: it acts like both a consonant and a vowel.

When *y* is at the beginning of a word or syllable, it is considered a consonant. In these cases it is pronounced with the long *ee* sound like in the words "young," "you" or "beyond."

When *y* is at the end of a word or syllable, it is a vowel and can be pronounced a few different ways.

*Y* sounds like a long *e* sound at the end of a word such as in adverbs like "quickly" or "slowly." This pronunciation happens mostly in adverbs (words ending in *ly* that describe verbs) or words that end in *ity* like "community" or "ability".

*Y* sounds like *ai* in one syllable words such as "fly" or "cry."

It sounds like a short *i* sound in words where it is in the middle of a syllable like "gym" or "cyst."

When combined with *a*, the *ay* combination is pronounced like a long *a* sound as in "play" and "day."

**Rule 15:**

***NG* sometimes sounds like two letters stuck together**

When learning English, we learn that the *ng* combination makes a special sound as in the words "king" or "thing."

There is, however, a second pronunciation of *ng*. In fact, there are certain words where the *ng* is not pronounced as a singular sound, but rather pronounced in such a way that you hear both letters: *n* and *g*. Some of these words are "anger," "finger" and "hunger."

**Rule 16:**

**Unstressed vowels make a "schwa" sound**

While a "schwa" may seem like a fancy English sound, it's actually not. In fact, it is the sound that is easiest for our mouths to create: holding the jaw slightly open, relaxing the tongue and making a short sound. It is very similar to the short *u* sound in English.

The cool thing about the "schwa" is that it can happen to virtually any vowel. When a vowel is unstressed in a word, it reduces to this sound. This can be seen in the words "pand**a**," "mitt**e**n," "b**i**kini," "citr**u**s" and "freed**o**m."

**Rule 17:**

**Past tense endings aren't always pronounced as** *D*

The regular past tense in English is formed by adding *ed* to the end of verbs. This ending, however, can be pronounced multiple ways.

The first way is as a general *d* sound. This happens for verbs that end in voiced consonants (consonants that use the vocal cords) like *n*, *m*, *g*, *l*, *z*, *b*, *r* and *v*, and this results in the words "rolled," "rubbed" and "revved."

The second pronunciation of the *ed* ending is as a *t*. This happens for verbs that end in voiceless consonants (consonants that don't use the vocal cords) like *k*, *f*, *s* and *p*. This results in the words "kicked," "flopped" and "huffed."

The third pronunciation of this ending is pronounced like *id* with a short *i* sound. This pronunciation is for verbs that already end in a *t* or a *d* as in "fitted" or "skidded."

**Rule 18:**

**Sometimes** *H* **is silent**

Most of the time when an *h* is at the beginning of a word, we pronounce it by almost letting out a little sigh such as in "hot" or "humble."

There are a few words in which you don't let this little bit of air out and rather pronounce the word as if there is no *h* at all such as "honor" or "hour."

**Rule 19:**

**Pronounce** *OO* **as a short** *U* **when it's followed by** *K*

Usually the *oo* combination is pronounced with a long *u* sound such as in “school” or “doom,” but sometimes it has a short *u* sound. This occurs when it is followed by a *k* such as in “look” or “book.”

**Rule 20:**

**Pronounce *EI* as a long *E* if it comes after *C* in a stressed syllable**

Usually *ei* is pronounced as the long *a* sound such as in “neighbor” or “weight.” The exception to this is when *ei* follows a *c* in a stressed syllable such as words like “receive”or “fancies.”

**Rule 21:**

**Pronounce *S*, *Z* and *G* like a French speaker in specific words**

Believe it or not, the French language had a big impact on the way English words are written and pronounced. One of the most evident French sounds in English is in some words with *s*, *z*, or *g*.

*Z* is pronounced this way in words such as “seizure.” *G* can also make a French *j* sound as in the word “regime” or as in the second *g* in the word “garage.”

*S* can have a French-like pronunciation in words like “vision” and “measure.” This sound is pronounced like the French *j* as in the French word je (I).

This sound is pronounced rare and only occurs in specific words. I recommend memorizing these words as there is no rule for when the sound should be made.

**Rule 22:**

*OU* **has many pronunciations**

You would expect *ou* to be pronounced almost like “ow” in most cases such as with words like “about,” or “shout.” There are also quite a few instances when this does not apply and the *ou* combination is pronounced differently.

If the combination is *oup*, a long *o* sound is formed, such as “soup” or “group.”

With *ould,* a schwa sound is created and it sounds more like *ood* with not much of an *l* sound like in “would” or “could.”

If the combination is *ough*, there is a variety of pronunciations, depending on the word. It can sound like there’s an *f* at the end such as in “cough” or “rough.” It could also just sound like a long *o* such as “through.” Lastly, if the combination is *ought*, it can sound like “ot” such as the world “thought.”

These ones can be a bit difficult and memorization is the best way to remember which words make which sounds with the *ou* combination.

**Rule 23:**

**Stress on the first syllable makes the word a noun**

Word stress doesn't only affect the pronunciation of some letters, but it also changes the meaning of some words. As a matter of fact, changing the stress on some words changes them from nouns to verbs.

When word stress is on the first syllable of some words, that word is in its noun form. When stress is on the last syllable, that word is in its verb form.

This can be seen in the words "**pro**duce" (noun form) and "pro**duce**" (verb form) as in "the farm pro**duces** a lot of **pro**duce" and the words "**in**crease" (noun form) and "in**crease**" (verb form) "we have to in**crease** our sales to see an **in**crease in profit."

**Rule 24:**

*L* **becomes dark near the end of a syllable**

The letter *l* has two pronunciations referred to as the "clear *l*" and the "dark *l*."

"Clear *l*" is the common pronunciation of the letter that we are used to as in the words "leave," "loose" and "pluck." The "dark *l*" is pronounced by raising the back of the tongue during pronunciation.

This often occurs when *l* is at the end of a syllable as in the words "pull" and "milk." This rule also applies to words that end in *le* as in "little" and "nibble." In these words, it almost sounds like there is a "schwa" preceding the "dark l" sound.

**Rule 25:**

*TH* **can be voiced or unvoiced**

Even though *th* is taught as a sound that is somewhat unique to English, its complication doesn't stop there. In fact, the "th" in English is pronounced as two distinct sounds.

The first "th" sound is voiced (vocal cords vibrate) as in the words "though," "then" and "they."

The second "th" is voiceless (vocal cords do not vibrate) as in the words "thought," "thick" or "cloth."

Unfortunately, there is no rule for when to use which sound. That means that you will have to memorize which words have which sound.

# B). C. Speech techniques

**What Makes a Great Speech?**

One of the most important qualities of a great speech is that it’s relatively short.

Consider Abraham Lincoln’s “Gettysburg Address” and Dr. Martin Luther King, Jr.’s “I Have a Dream” speech. Both are powerful but brief, clocking in at two minutes and 17 minutes, respectively.

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However, a speech’s length is only one factor. A great speech must also captivate the audience, be presented clearly and confidently, and have a well-defined message.

Here are some techniques you can use to deliver a great, memorable speech, whether it's for work or elsewhere.

**1. Consider Your Speech a Performance**

A speech is primarily about the words, but a performance is so much more. It’s inflection, gesture, tension, resolution, and suspense.

But it doesn't have to be overwhelming, and you don't have to be an Oscar winner to do it well.

Go see a one-person play, and you’ll instantly understand what I mean. Performers work hard at capturing and words are only one tool in their arsenal.

This means after you finish writing a speech, the work isn't done. Make sure to rehearse the speech in front of a few people, the mirror, or a recording device. You'll feel more confident after you've practiced, even if it's just a few times.

**2. Harness the Power of Eye Contact**

When nerves take over, you might naturally want to look at the floor, your slides, your hands, or the back of the room. But remember that you're in a room with humans who want to connect with you and your words.

If you try to make eye contact with people while you deliver your speech, they're more likely to feel personally engaged and gain your trust. Eye contact communicates confidence and authority – two traits key to conveying your point effectively.

**3. Let Go of the Lectern**

The lectern can be a crutch. It’s a physical barrier between you and your audience, and you may want to consider stepping out from behind it. Not only will your movement help create a livelier presentation, but it will help the audience perceive you as more open and accessible. Movement can also help ease your nerves.

To help you stay focused when delivering your speech, map out where you want to be on stage for each key point you want to make. You can record videos of your practice sessions to pick up on subconscious nervous gestures or ticks and work to correct them.

**4. Pay Attention to Your Posture**

Your body language conveys confidence. Slouching can make you look like you aren't confident. Practice standing up straight, keeping your shoulders back and your head steady. However, don't worry too much because your body will tighten, making you look and feel nervous. Remember to relax.

Additionally, breathing is important for calming your nerves. Slouching leaves less room for your lungs to fully breathe. Even if your speech is short, it’s critical to optimize your breathing habits so you feel better both mentally and physically.

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Take deep, calm breaths as much as you need to beforehand. Don't forget to pause and breathe during the speech too. Taking care of yourself is crucial.

### 5. Spice Up Your Speech with Stories

The power of storytelling lies in the images that audience members create in their heads as you spin your yarn.

Try not to overload your speech with data points, unless it's primarily a data-driven topic. Listeners will be more likely to remember pertinent anecdotes that inspire compassion, elicit laughter, or simply intrigue them.

Stories – especially brief, relevant ones – are a powerful tool for delivering a great speech. Weaving them into your presentation can transform your listeners into active participants.

### 6. Vary Your Speaking Cadence

When delivering a speech, it’s important to deliberately mix up speaking patterns such as volume, speed, and tone.

When in doubt, slow down your speech to let your audience catch up – especially if you tend to speak quickly. Remembering to pause can be very helpful in steadying the speech.

If you know you’re naturally a fast talker, build some pauses into your speech. Determine points at which to take a breather, or incorporate statements like “Now think about that for a moment” or “Let that sink in.” It takes an audience more time to process your points than it will take for you to articulate them.

Remember that you're the expert. Give people time to ponder your brilliant message.

### 7. Discuss What You Know and Care About

If you're asked to give a speech, you're probably already an expert on the subject.

Passion translates to energy and authenticity, which help engage an audience. Emotion pulls the audience in and gets them invested in hearing more. Take them with you on this journey from the start by talking with passion.

If you find you’re not moved by your topic, modify it so it's more relevant to you and your audience. The more relevant it is, the more engaging your speech will be, and the more confident you'll feel delivering it.

### The Takeaway

As an expert worthy of giving a great speech, you'll likely excel at providing the main content points. But using these techniques can help you get your message across in a compelling and memorable way. Focus on crafting a clear, concise message that’s rife

with relevant anecdotes. Practice the performance, adjust any small habits as needed, and remember that you deserve to be up there. Remember to breathe.

## Literary Techniques for your Speech, with Examples Analyzed

Planned use of language has a major impact on how your speech is received by the audience. Saying the right words at the right time, and in the right way, can achieve a specific impact.

### Use language to achieve impact

Careful use of language has produced many powerful speeches over the years. Here are a few literary devices you can employ for your next speech.

### Rhetorical Questions

Start your next presentation with an open question. It engages the audience and gets them thinking about your speech early on. Use questions throughout and leave pauses after, letting the audience think about an answer.

### Pause at the Right Moment

This adds impact to sentence just before or after the pause. This is a good literary technique to use for the key message of your speech. Don't be afraid to wait 3-5 seconds before speaking, adding maximum impact to your words.

### Tripling

Messages and words are remembered best in groups of three. The power of three is used in all aspects of speaking in public and by the media. Couple words in groups of three with alliteration for maximum impact, such as "They grew up with a long, lasting, love for each other."

### Repeat the Key Point

A technique used frequently by politicians, a word needs to be said on average 5 times before the audience begins to take in what is being said.

### Dramatic Contrast

Contrasting two points, such as "Ten years ago we had a reputation for excellence. Today, we are in danger of losing that reputation."

*Spend time planning which of these language techniques you will use in your speech. You can add these in after your first draft of the speech has been written.*

### Martin Luther King - I Have A Dream

**Transcript snippet**

And so even though we face the difficulties of today and tomorrow, I still have a dream. It is a dream deeply rooted in the American dream. I have a dream that one day this nation will rise up and live out the true meaning of its creed: "We hold these truths to be self-evident, that all men are created equal."

I have a dream that one day on the red hills of Georgia, the sons of former slaves and the sons of former slave owners will be able to sit down together at the table of brotherhood.

I have a dream that one day even the state of Mississippi, a state sweltering with the heat of injustice, sweltering with the heat of oppression, will be transformed into an oasis of freedom and justice. I have a dream that my four little children will one day live in a nation where they will not be judged by the color of their skin but by the content of their character.

I have a dream today! I have a dream that one day, down in Alabama, with its vicious racists, with its governor having his lips dripping with the words of "interposition" and "nullification" — one day right there in Alabama little black boys and black girls will be able to join hands with little white boys and white girls as sisters and brothers.

I have a dream today! I have a dream that one day every valley shall be exalted, and every hill and mountain shall be made low, the rough places will be made plain, and the crooked places will be made straight; "and the glory of the Lord shall be revealed and all flesh shall see it together."

**Literary devices and techniques used**

Anaphora – Repetition of the "I have a dream" phrase at the beginning of each sentence.

Metonymy – The phrase "The let freedom ring from Stone Mountain of Georgia… Let freedom ring from Lookout Mountain of Tennessee… Let freedom ring from every hill and molehill of Mississippi", King uses these well-known racist locations to enhance his point.

Hyperbole – King uses the words 'all' and 'every' many times, exaggerating his point, "when we let it ring from every village and every hamlet, from every state and every city"

Alliteration – used throughout the speech, alliterations add a poetic quality to the speech, for example this sentence "judged by the color of their skin but by the content of their character."

Amplification – King repeats many of his points a second time, with greater emphasis and explanation the second time, "America has given the Negro people a bad check, a check which has come back marked insufficient funds."

Even though large tracts of Europe and many old and famous States have fallen or may fall into the grip of the Gestapo and all the odious apparatus of Nazi rule, we shall not flag or fail. We shall go on to the end. We shall fight in France, we shall fight on the seas and oceans, we shall fight with growing confidence and growing strength in the air, we shall defend our island, whatever the cost may be.

We shall fight on the beaches, we shall fight on the landing grounds, we shall fight in the fields and in the streets, we shall fight in the hills; we shall never surrender.

And if, which I do not for a moment believe, this island or a large part of it were subjugated and starving, then our Empire beyond the seas, armed and guarded by the British Fleet, would carry on the struggle, until, in God's good time, the New World, with all its power and might, steps forth to the rescue and the liberation of the old.

Literary devices and techniques used

Anaphora – The repetition of the phrase "we shall fight" can be seen in the transcript snippet. This adds dramatic emphases on the words he is saying in these paragraphs.

Alliteration – Churchill uses repetition of letters to emphasize the dark time Europe was in, "I see also the dull, drilled, docile, brutish masses of the Hun soldiery plodding on like a swarm of crawling locusts" and "your grisly gang who work your wicked will."

Antistrophe – The repetition of words at the end of successive sentences, "the love of peace, the toil for peace, the strife for peace, the pursuit of peace".

Hypophora – Churchill asks various questions and then answers them himself, "You ask, what is our policy? I can say: It is to wage war, by sea, land and air" and "You ask, what is our aim? I can answer in one word, it is victory".

Rule of Three – Churchill uses this literary technique in many of his speeches, "This is not the end. It is not even the beginning of the end. But it is, perhaps, the end of the beginning" and "Never before in the field of human conflict was so much owed by so many, to so few".

# Unit IV
# Writing:

"Writing" is the process of using symbols (letters of the alphabet, punctuation and spaces) to communicate thoughts and ideas in a readable form.

"Writing" can also refer to the work/career of an author, as in: "Shakespeare didn't make much money from writing."

Generally, we write using a pen/pencil (handwriting) or a keyboard (typing). With a pen/pencil we usually write on a surface such as paper or whiteboard. A keyboard is normally attached to a typewriter, computer or mobile device. Voice recognition programs allow those who can't see or use their hands to have their thoughts transcribed.

Writing is the fourth of the four language skills, which are:

Listening

Speaking

Reading

**Writing**

In our own language, writing is usually the fourth language skill that we learn.

To write clearly it is essential to understand the basic system of a language. In English this includes knowledge of grammar, punctuation and sentence structure. Vocabulary is also necessary, as is correct spelling and formatting.

A writer may write for personal enjoyment or use, or for an audience of one person or more. The audience may be known (targeted) or unknown. Taking notes for study purposes is an example of writing for one's self. Blogging publicly is an example of writing for an unknown audience. A letter to a friend is an example of writing for a targeted audience. As with speaking, it is important to consider your audience when writing. There are many different styles of writing, from informal to formal.

## A). Principles of Effective Writing

Writing is never about the writer. It’s about the reader—and nowhere more so than on the web, where attention is limited and people, for the most part, don’t want to hang around.

***They want to move forward.*** **They want to do something.** ***Writing in plain English can help with that.***

It's not about simplifying your work or heavy-handed editing. It's not about stifling creativity. Writing in plain English is about **understanding who your reader is** and what they want; then writing in a way that speaks to them clearly and concisely.

Looking for ways to **improve your writing skills**? Use these 10 basic principles of effective writing to get started.

10 basic principles of effective writing

Once you get the hang of it, plain English is faster to write and easier to read. Most importantly, you are much more likely to get your message across. Everyone wins.

So how do you do it? Here are 10 tips for writing effectively in a clear, concise way.

**1. Write short sentences**

Short sentences are easier to read. It's as simple as that.

Aim for 15–20 words, but be sure to mix it up because good writing of any kind relies on rhythm. **Short is better, but your writing needs to flow**. That might mean writing a slightly longer sentence here and there, but that's fine if the paragraph reads better and clarifies the meaning.

A good rule of thumb is to aim for one point or idea per sentence. That might sometimes sound ambitious, and, of course, some concepts are trickier to explain than others. However, most sentences can be sliced and diced in some way or another.

*Vary the length of your sentences to create rhythm in your writing. Image Source*

**2. Use active voice**

This is all about verbs. Active verbs make your sentences **direct, dynamic, and easy to read**. Passive verbs can make sentences confusing, ambiguous, and, I'm afraid to say,

rather dull. Let's look at the structure. Sentences that include active verbs are pieced together in a specific way.

The cat (subject) sat on (verb) the mat (object).

The subject comes before the verb, so the reader knows what the subject (the cat) is doing (sitting) before we say where (on the mat).

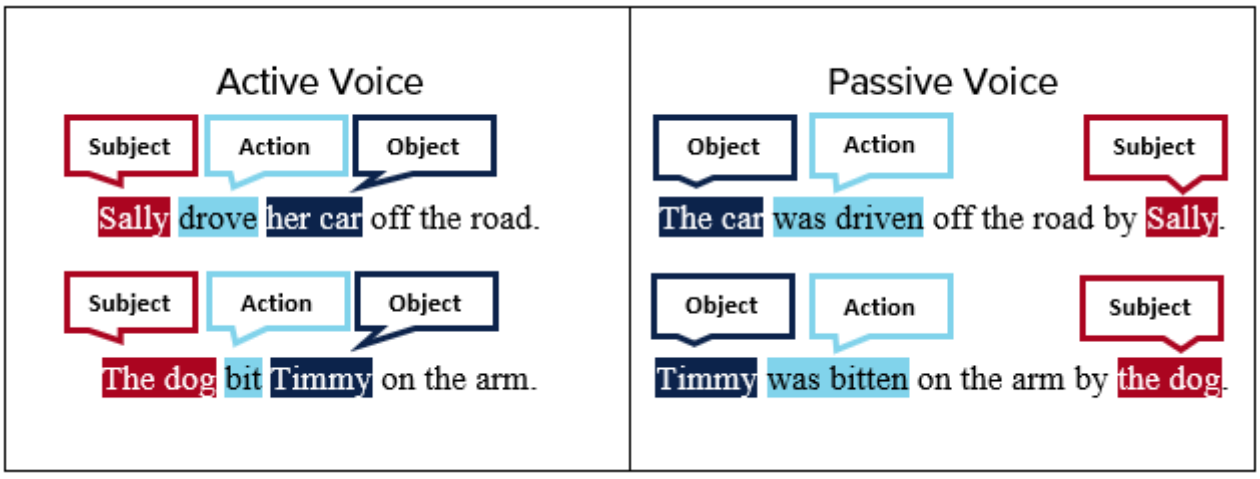
Here's a passive version of the same sentence:

The mat (object) was sat on (verb) by the cat (subject).

This sounds more clunky. It's not how we would describe what is happening **if we said it out loud**. The passive version also needs two extra words for it to make sense. If you ever need to reduce your word count, hunt down your passive verbs and make them active. It works every time.

Typically, we talk in an active voice. Should you always avoid the passive voice? No, not really. Sometimes you don't know who or what the subject of a sentence is, and sometimes a passive verb might be more appropriate.

However, for the most part, you'll want to write using active verbs. They make your writing clearer, conversational, and more engaging.




*While passive voice hides the doer, active voice is more clear and direct, which makes for more engaged readers!*

**3. Use I, we, and you**

Pronouns are your pals. If you're writing on behalf of an organization, say, "*We do this…*" or, "*Our product does that….*" Use the company name if you feel it's more appropriate, but it won't be necessary most of the time.

Likewise, speak directly to the reader. Don't refer to them as 'customers' or your 'audience,' and please, I beg of you, don't call them 'users.'

Remember, plain English is about communicating clearly. You are only ever writing for one person, so be conversational and say, "*You can do this…*" or, "*Your information is….*"

Pronouns help you **avoid stuffy writing**. They allow you to focus on the reader and sound more friendly, helpful, and human.

**4. Write for your reader**

Writing for the reader in a language they can understand and relate to is one of the key principles of writing in plain English. This might seem obvious, but use words that make sense to your reader.

Most websites have a broad audience, so it's a good idea to use everyday language and avoid jargon like buzzwords and acronyms. Some jargon is okay if it fits the context and makes sense for the reader. For example, if you're writing to an audience of tech-savvy folks, using some technical terms may be appropriate.

Writing in plain English **is not dumbing down the content**. Finding the simplest way to communicate with someone does not mean being simple. It means planning ahead, knowing your audience, and making no assumptions.

Know your message. Learn about your reader. Use words they'll understand.

**5. Give clear instructions**

When writing for the web, it's your job to help people get the information they need to take the next step. Giving clear instructions is the easiest way to ensure that the reader knows where to go or what to do next.

In general, online audiences are pretty good at following directions. We follow, like, share, subscribe, and buy several times a day. With the move to mobile, it's even more important to **write short, clear, and direct instruction**s.

If you want your reader to take action, let them know about it. Be direct. Tell them specifically what you want them to do next. Here are some examples:

**Don't say:** *The document should be downloaded.*

**Do say:** *Download the document.*

**Don't say:** *Applicants are advised to read the job profile.*

**Do say:** *Read the job profile.*

As you can see, the less direct alternative to giving instructions is longer sentences, passive verbs, and far fewer pronouns. And you know how we feel about that.

**6. Avoid nominalization**

A nominalization is an abstract noun formed from a verb. They are typically processes, feelings, and other intangibles that you read and run into every day. You probably hate them.

# B). Formal Letter Writing

a formal letter, the definition and structure of a formal letter, along with sample formal letters for your reference. Formal Letters are professional and need to be drafted carefully. The following topics will help you understand how to write a formal letter in the most effective manner.

## Table of Contents


- Definition of a Formal Letter
- Structure of a Formal Letter – Types of Formal Letters
- Writing a Formal Letter – Parts of a Formal Letter

- Formal Letter Writing Samples
- FAQs on Formal Letter Writing Format in English

Definition of a Formal Letter

Formal Letters, also called Business Letters or Professional Letters, are letters that are written in a strict and specific format. Formal letters are naturally much more formal in style than informal/friendly letters. Formal letters can be written for a number of reasons such as,

- to express your concerns while working in a professional setup
- to provide official information across your workspace
- to order goods, to apply for employment, etc.
- to the Editor of a newspaper addressing the problems faced by various groups of people in different areas, etc.

Structure of a Formal Letter

In order to be able to write a formal letter, you have to first understand the reason behind the letter. As far as formal letters are concerned, the structure of the letter changes depending on the type of letter. There are certain rules to be followed to be able to draft a formal letter. Every sentence should be well thought out and laid down in such a way that the message you want to convey should be precise and clear to the reader.

Types of Formal Letters

There are different types of formal letters, as discussed, and they can generally be labelled under the following terms:

- Business Letters
- Letters of Application
- Letters to Newspapers

***Business Letters***

Business letters should be terse, clear and to the point. There is no room for any kind of stories in a business letter. Before you start to write a business letter, there are a few things you should keep in mind.

- Use simple, everyday language to convey the message clearly instead of using flamboyant and overemphatic vocabulary.
- Never use jargon that is commonly used in business when you write a business letter.
- Avoid using abbreviations as much as possible.
- The modes of address vary according to the type of letter and the receiver.
- Clear and exact descriptions of the articles necessary with the expected quality and quantity should be listed with utmost care when you write a letter to order goods.
- When replying to a business letter, always quote the date of the letter you are responding to and its reference numbers (if any).

Formal/Business letters include letters from an employer to the employees and vice versa, letters to order and replace goods, letters of serious concern to an officer of higher rank, letters of complaint, etc.

***Letters of Application***

Letters of Application usually consist of letters applying for employment. Before and after you write a letter of application, make sure you check for the following:

- Always start with a short introduction stating whether the applicant is writing in response to a reference from an advertisement found online or in the newspaper.
- State the age, education and experience of the applicant.
- Provide the employer with a genuine expression of the applicant's earnestness in taking up the job in the respective company.
- Also, furnish references so that the employer can gather an idea of the kind of employee you would be.

Letters of Application should follow the format of formal/business letters.

***Letters to Newspapers***

Always address these letters to 'The Editor' and end with 'Yours faithfully'. Letters to the Editor are letters that express concerns that should be addressed to the higher authorities. These letters should be professional and authentic. No newspaper would publish anonymous letters, so make sure you are writing the letter for a cause and provide your name and address correctly.

**Writing a Formal Letter – Parts of a Formal Letter**

When writing a formal letter, always be respectful and conscious of your language, no matter what the subject of the letter might be. To write a formal letter, there are some points to be remembered.

1. Always start with the **sender's address**
2. This is followed by the **date**.
3. The **receiver's address** comes next. The receiver can be the name of the firm or the one who represents the firm.
4. The **subject of the letter** is very important. It is a statement of the purpose of the letter. It should be written in a single line.
5. The **salutation** can be *Dear Sir/Ma'am.* If it is a person you know well, you can address them by their name, *'Dear Shrinath'.*
6. The **body of the letter** can be written in 3 paragraphs.

- The first paragraph should be aimed at introducing yourself and stating the purpose of your letter.
- The second paragraph should furnish all the information about the matter.
- The third paragraph can be a concluding paragraph where you lay out your expectations regarding the matter.

To **close the letter**, you can use a complimentary closing like '*Yours faithfully', 'Yours sincerely' etc.*

Unlike informal letters, the **signature** should include your name (in block letters) and designation below your signature.

Formal Letter Writing Samples

*Formal Letter Sample*

**Javed**

Read More Book Store

24, Crosby Lane

Bangalore 600045

20th August, 2019

**The Manager**

Zack Publishing House

Mumbai 400012

Subject: Requirement of new books for the store

Dear Sir,

I have received the books that you sent last week. The books are in perfect condition, and they were delivered on time. Owing to the great service rendered, I would like to order more books that would be a great addition to the wide range of books available at my store. Given below is a list of books that I would like to purchase:

I shall be grateful if you could send me copies of these books as mentioned by VPP as early as possible to the address given.

Thank you in advance.

**Yours faithfully,**

**Signature**

***Formal Letter Sample 2 – Letter to the Editor about a road that needs repair***

**Ganesh**

25, SS Street

Cheran Nagar

Coimbatore 641023

8th September, 2019

**The Editor**

The Hindu

Coimbatore

Subject: Repair of the road in Cheran Nagar

Sir,

I would like to bring to your notice that the people in and around Cheran Nagar have been facing difficulties in travelling back and forth because of the bad condition of the roads there. We have appealed to the Municipality, but there has not been any response on the issue so far.

As our appeals to their office have had no effect, we believe that perhaps a mention in the media would be of great help. Since the beginning of the last month, the roads in Cheran Nagar have been almost impassable. The surface is badly broken up by the heavy rains, and on a dark night, it is positively dangerous for vehicles to pass that way. Moreover, there are heaps of road metal on both sides of the road, which leave very little room in the middle. The residents of the area have been inconvenienced in this way for weeks.

The situation is becoming worse. There have been multiple accidents happening due to this condition. I request you to highlight the seriousness of the matter in your newspaper so that the road may be properly repaired without further delay.

**Thanking You**

Yours sincerely,

Signature.

# Informal Letter

To write an informal letter in English, you need to know the way in which it is written. Informal letter writing is easier than you think. It is just like a long talk with a friend or relative.

In this article, the format of an informal letter is explored under the following headings.

- What Is an Informal Letter?
- What Can You Write about in an Informal Letter?
- How to Write an Informal Letter?
- Informal Letter Format Samples
- Informal Letter Format 1 – Letter to Your Cousin Inquiring about Her First Visit to Ethiopia
- Informal Letter Format 2 – Letter to Your Friend about Arranging a Get-Together
- Informal Letter Format 3 – Reply Regretting Inability To Join

FAQ On Informal Letter Format

## What Is an Informal Letter?

Informal letters are personal letters that are written to let your friends or family know about what is going on in your life and to convey your regards. An informal letter is usually written to a family member, a close acquaintance, or a friend. The language used in an informal letter is casual and personal.

## What Can You Write about in an Informal Letter?

You can literally write about anything you feel or think you want to convey. Informal letters can be written to inform your dear ones about your success in a competition, about a movie you watched recently, about the trip that you would be going on, and so on. It can also be to enquire about their well-being, to invite them to go along with you on a trip, to congratulate them on their new job, to convey your regards, etc. You can be as personal as you want when writing an informal letter.

## How to Write an Informal Letter?

Like any letter, there is a format to write an informal letter in English. Unlike a formal letter, an informal letter does not need to state something specific. It can be written in an easy, conversational style. They are in the nature of a friendly chat, so it can include a variety of topics. It can have all that you want to tell your dear one about. You can use colloquial expressions, unlike formal letters. There are a few easy guidelines that you can follow to be able to write impressive informal letters.

- **Address and Date:**

  If you are thinking of how to start writing an informal letter, here is what you should know. To get your informal letter format right, you have to begin it with the sender's address. The address is written on the left-hand side of the paper. It is necessary that you write the complete address so that the receiver can write back to you. So, see to that you give the correct address along with the pin code. In case you are writing to someone in a different country, make sure you include your country in the address. For example,29, NBC GardenCoimbatore, India – 641053This is followed by the date. Writing the date is important as it would help the receiver know when exactly you had written the letter. You can write the date in either of the following formats:For example,

  15/11/2021 or 15th November, 2021 or November 15, 2021

- **Forms of Greeting/Salutation:**

  In informal letters to friends and family, you can address them by their names prefixed by qualifying terms such as *Dear, My dear, Dearest,* etc. You can also address them by their pet names (Eg: Dearest Rosy, Dear Andy, My dear Sweety…) or by their relationship with you

(Dear Uncle, Dearest Grandma, My dear Cousin…). If you are writing to an ordinary friend who is older than you are, or of superior rank, it is respectful to use prefixes such as *Mr, Mrs, Ms,* etc. For example, Dear Mr Reddy.

- **Introduction and Body of the Letter:**
- The words you use determine the nature of your letter. You can start your informal letter with an introduction to set the tone of the matter that is going to be discussed. You can begin by enquiring about the health and well-being of the recipient. For instance, *I hope this letter of mine finds you in the pink of health.* You can then explain the reason behind the letter and provide the details as elaborate as you wish to, unlike formal letters. The letter can be more like a friendly chat than an essay. You can write in a very casual and personal tone. If you are writing to an older person, do not use disrespectful terms or sentences.
- **Conclusion:**

  End the informal letter on a friendly note. Use words in such a way that the recipient feels like they have had a wonderful time chatting with you. See to that you make sure you let them know that you would be awaiting their response to your letter.
- **Forms of Subscription/Signature:** You can use the following in informal letters to relatives and near friends: *Yours affectionately, Yours lovingly, Your loving friend, With love, etc.,* followed by your name (mostly your first name).If you are writing to a close acquaintance whom you have addressed as *Dear Mr, Mrs,* etc., you can use *Yours sincerely, Kind regards,* etc.

**Informal Letter Format Samples**

Let us now look at some examples of informal letter formats to help you understand better.

**Informal Letter Format 1 – Letter to Your Cousin Enquiring about Her First Visit to Ethiopia**

34, Park Avenue
Mumbai – 400023
24th September, 2021

Dearest Maria,
I was so glad to hear from my mother that you are back home after the trip. Hope you had a safe and enjoyable trip. I have been waiting to hear all about the trip from you.

Since this was the first time you have been to a foreign land, I guess every little bit of the trip was as exciting as you expected it to be. I have heard from my friends residing there that the place is extremely beautiful and that the people there are very endearing. However, I was worried when I knew that there were a few bomb blasts during your stay there. Hope all of you there were safe. I hope everything else was fine except for this.

I had spoken to your mother earlier, and she told me that you would be coming home after two weeks. I saw your pictures on Instagram as well. I can't wait to meet you and hear all your stories. Waiting eagerly for your reply.

Your loving cousin,

Sarah

**Informal Letter Format 2 – Letter to a Friend about Arranging a Get-together**

BB Street,

Allahabad – 211005

12/02/2020

Dear Surya,

Hope you are keeping well, and everyone at home is keeping safe and healthy. It has been a long time since all of us have met, so I was thinking we could all meet up. I have planned to have a get-together next month. I would love to discuss more about it.

All of us could meet on Friday evening and stay over the weekend at a resort in Munnar. The climate in Munnar is great and it will be a good stress reliever. We could also go around the tourist spots if everyone is interested. If you are ready, we could talk to the others also. I will visit you next weekend to discuss more on this.

Awaiting your reply and hoping to meet you soon.

. Yours lovely

Friend

Love Sreya

# B). b. E-Mail Writing

Emails are modern-age letters. This article explains the format of email writing and also gives you sample emails for students of Class 8 to Class 12 and working professionals.


- How to Write an Email?
- Email Writing Format Samples
- Informal Email Writing Format Samples
- Email Expressing Your Appreciation
- Email about Your Trip
- Formal Email Writing Format Samples
- Email on Seeking Information about Course Details
- Email on Introducing a New Employee to Your Team
- Email on Official Intimation of Your Resignation
- Email Informing Your Employees about the Change in Work Timings

FAQs on Email Writing Format


**How to Write an Email?**

Email writing is an essential part of professional communication. It is not easy to get people to respond to your emails if they do not feel interested in your message or proposal. This is exactly the reason why you should learn to write good emails. Be bold. Get to the point right away. The best email communication is the one that is simple and clear.

There are a few tips you have to keep in mind when you sit down to write emails. Emails can be casual or professional, just like informal and formal letters. The format of the email changes according to the kind of email you are writing. However, accurate grammar and spelling are aspects that are to be taken seriously.

**When you start writing an email,**

- Make sure you type in the right email ID. Always check with the receiver for the exact **email address** because even a full stop that is not part of the email address can land your email with the wrong person, or the mail would simply bounce.
- The **Subject** line is the next most important factor you should carefully consider because that is the first thing anyone receiving the email would see. It also determines if the receiver would want to open the mail. 'The from line is what recipients use to determine whether to delete an email. The subject line is what motivates people to actually open the email.' said Loren McDonald. Spend double the time you spend on drafting the body to draft the subject.
- See to it that your **Salutation or Greeting** is appropriate to the receiver/s. The greeting builds a rapport.
- The **Body** of the email states what the email is about. Be clear with what you want your receiver to know. Make sure you have everything you want to convey drafted in simple terms. Do not use colloquial language or long unwinding sentences. Try not to repeat

words or use cliched terms. Make your message positive, even if you're turning down an offer. If you have to follow, do it before they remind you to. Keep it short. Use standard font style and size. Do a final spelling/grammar check/proofread.

- Finally, **Sign off** the email on a polite note and proofread it before hitting send. The closing should feel genuine; only then will the receiver want to respond.

Email Writing Format Samples

Here are some sample emails that will help you understand how to write an email in the best possible way.

**Informal Email Writing Format Samples**

*Email Expressing Your Appreciation*

To: Recipient's email address
Subject: Congratulations!
Dear (Name),

My heartfelt congratulations to you. I was glad to see your name on the merit list. All your efforts were definitely not in vain. I bet everyone at home is so proud of you.
You have truly honoured the family name, and I am happy that you would get to take up the course in architecture that you had been waiting for. I am waiting to meet you in person to convey all my love and appreciation.

Convey my regards to uncle, aunty and grandpa.

Regards,

Your name

To: Recipient's email ID

Subject: About my trip

My dear (Name),

I am very excited to write to you about the long tour I will be going on along with my parents. We will be leaving on the 25th.

We will be away for three months. We are going to San Francisco for an official meeting my father has to attend. We would then be travelling to New York to visit our cousins. We would stay there for a month. After that, we will be going to Paris. It has always been my dream to visit Paris at least once in my lifetime, and my parents have finally agreed to take me there. I will definitely write to you all about my trip – all the different places we visit, the variety of food we eat and the people we meet.

It would have been even more special if you had come along with me. We will make sure we plan out a trip once I am back home.

With best wishes,

Your name

# b). Resume

A resume for every job you apply for is not a good approach. You'll get the best results if you send your resume between 6 a.m. and 10 a.m. within the first four days of a job being posted. Your resume should be clear, concise and tailored to the job for which you are applying.

**This article is for job seekers who want to improve their resumes to increase their chances of getting an interview.**

With the current labor shortage and low unemployment rate, job seekers are at an advantage when it comes to applying for jobs. However, that's not to say that you don't need a professionally written resume. Employers still want to find and hire the best employees for each open position, and resumes are the first step in that search. There are several strategies you can use to make your resume stand out and demonstrate that you are the best candidate for the job.

Importance of a resume

Your resume is the most important document you'll submit in your job search. It's your frontline fighter, so to speak, as it's your first opportunity to present yourself to a potential employer. Hiring managers and recruiters look at resumes for an average of only six to seven seconds each, so it's important that you make every second count. A strong resume can help you stand out from the crowd, but a weak resume can remove you from the running.

According to Zippia research, professionally written resumes are not only good for landing an interview, but they can also boost your earning potential by 7%.

Simple resume writing tips to help you stand out

It can be difficult to succinctly present all of your experiences and qualifications on one page, but there are many ways to spruce up your resume without going overboard. To help you land an interview, we rounded up some of the best resume writing tips.

1. Keep your resume short and direct.

The No. 1 rule of writing a resume is to keep it short and to the point. The general rule is no more than one page unless you have a very good reason for it to be longer, like an extensive career or a lot of highly applicable work experience.

An easy way to keep your resume concise is to include only recent, relevant experience. While that yearlong first job might have taught you a lot about the field, it's not always necessary to include every detail from your entire career history.

Most experts recommend including jobs from the previous 10 or 15 years only, although this time frame may be shorter if you are new to the workforce. Including too many unrelated work experiences can make your resume appear too busy and draw attention away from your relevant qualifications. Your resume should be focused, clear and concise.

**Tips**

If you are an older job seeker, here are some things you can do to condense and age-proof your resume.

**2. Create an original resume template.**

Employers appreciate originality. While it's helpful to refer to a professional resume template, don't follow it rigidly. Zippia found that more than 60% of hiring managers consider a customized resume as the top strategy for job applicants to increase their chance of landing a job.

"I often pass over resumes that match Microsoft Office templates," Claire Bissot, SPHR and director of Kainos Capital, told us. "The templates are meant to be a guide to get started, but it should be expanded on to make it your own."

Format your resume so that it is easy to identify your qualifications. For instance, Bissot recommended, if you advanced in a company quickly, draw attention to that growth. If you excessively job-hopped, bullet those jobs without providing specifics and detail more applicable positions. This will play to your assets.

When structuring your resume, make sure the information is presented in a logical order, said Veronica Yao, owner of CareerProse and marketing communications manager at Fonolo. "A hiring manager [will] read your resume starting at the top and ending at the bottom. However, if they don't finish reading the whole thing – and they often don't – you still want to ensure your strongest points come across."

3. Highlight relevant skills and experiences.

Using the Instead, your resume should target the specific job you are applying for. Be sure to prioritize the skills, qualifications and experiences that are directly applicable to the job you are trying to land.

Choose three or four former positions or experiences that best highlight the skills required for the position for which you apply. Employers value brevity; this is not the time to list every position you have ever held. For example, if you are applying for a marketing position, you could include your former retail experience and bullet the communication, branding and interpersonal skills you learned in that position.

If you don't have a work history that directly relates to the job you are applying for, get creative with how you present your other experiences. Draw on the skills you used and how your contributions benefited the organization or project.

**4. Demonstrate results with numbers and metrics.**

When you write about your previous work experience, it is always a good idea to quantify your successes with numbers. Using metrics can highlight your achievements and give the hiring manager or recruiter a clear sense of how you impacted your previous place of employment. For example, someone who previously worked as a sales representative might say that they "executed more than 50 cold calls daily, with an average 5% conversion rate."

**5. Craft a career snapshot.**

More recently, career experts have urged job seekers to do away with the old "objective" statement and instead consider including a brief summary, called a "career snapshot," at the top of their resume.

"With the career snapshot, you present a branding statement that briefly explains your unique value as well as your skills and qualifications," said Tomer Sade, CEO of Book a Space. "This would then be followed by a few bullet points that highlight your experience and your accomplishments. Whatever you list here should be relevant to the position you're applying to."

"The top third of your resume is prime resume real estate," added Lisa Rangel, an executive resume writer and CEO of Chameleon Resumes. "Create a robust summary to capture the hiring manager's eye."

Think of your career snapshot as an answer to the question "How would you describe your work experience in one sentence?" The summary is an opportunity to sum up your most relevant and important skills, experience, or assets right off the bat.

**6. Optimize your text.**

If a company uses an applicant tracking system (ATS) to collect and scan resumes, a human hiring manager may never even glance at any application that doesn't fit the job criteria they've entered. Trish O'Brien, vice president of human capital operations at PSI Services, emphasized adapting your resume to the position to increase your likelihood of passing the first level.

"Make sure you've carefully reviewed the posting and … [used] the appropriate keywords in your resume to get past the screener," O'Brien said. "Be truthful, but understand that the first pass on your resume is likely via an ATS."

A helpful tip is to make sure you include keywords from the job post in your resume. You can copy and paste the job description into a word-cloud generator to identify the most frequently used terms, and make sure the terms that apply to you are used in your resume. You can also create a "core competencies" or "areas of expertise" section of your resume to list all of your hard and soft skills, and then reiterate those skills when you bullet your experience.

**Did You Know?**

According to Zippia, using keywords and industry jargon can increase your likelihood of getting an interview by nearly 30%.

**7. Think beyond your job duties.**

Hiring managers don't want to read a list of your job duties. They want concrete examples of your accomplishments in previous positions that show how you can make a difference in this new position.

Rangel said that specific merits are more engaging to read than just your experiences. For example, "I reduced operating expenses by 23% in six months" is far more interesting to an employer than "I have 30 years of sales experience."

When deciding what information to keep or cut out of your resume, focus on striking abstract traits and qualifications in favor of concrete, quantifiable results.

"The best resumes highlight a job candidate's actions and results," said Bob Myhal, director of digital marketing at CBC Automotive Marketing. "Employers want employees who get things done and who take great joy and pride in what they do. Rather than a laundry list of your qualifications, your resume should reflect your accomplishments and enthusiasm for your career."

You shouldn't ignore your skills section either. Sade reminded job seekers to list any industry-relevant apps or programs they're familiar with and to find ways to incorporate examples of their emotional intelligence (e.g., self-awareness, empathy) and soft skills (e.g., work ethic, reliability) into their job descriptions.

**8. Use the right language to stand out.**

Trite, lackluster descriptions of your job duties and accomplishments won't do you any favors. Make sure you're using strong action words, such as "achieved," "designed," "improved" and "established," to describe your roles and projects, said Sade. This will make you sound confident while imparting vital information. But be cautious about depending on action verbs – make sure to include details about how you improved a process or achieved a goal.

"Words such as 'professional,' 'results-driven' and 'detail-oriented' provide very little helpful information," Sade said. "It's better to use actual job titles than these words."

**Did You Know?**

You can use a combination of action words to highlight your experience and make your resume easier to read.

Diya Obeid, founder and CEO of ATS company JobDiva, said that you should remove words like "go-getter," "team player" and "go-to person" from your resume. These come off as fluff and take up precious space on your resume.

**9. List your social media profiles.**

Many hiring managers today screen candidates on social networks. Save them a step by providing your profile links on your resume. Seasoned applicants with a professional social presence would do well to include URLs for their LinkedIn profile, Twitter account and blog, if applicable.

"If, and only if, your social media accounts are filled with professional posts pertaining to your industry, listing them on your resume can be advantageous," said Richie

Frieman, author of *REPLY ALL … and Other Ways to Tank Your Career*. "They can show you have a strong network and are up to speed with modern-day marketing and communications practices. The hiring manager will see that you like to keep up with what's happening and that you care about learning more."

Your social profiles can be a powerful recruitment tool to supplement your experience and position as an expert in your field, but only if they are leveraged correctly.

**Tips**

If your social profiles are not professionally applicable, do not list them on your resume, and make sure they are set to private.

**10. Check for errors.**

Triple-check your own work, and then have someone else look over your resume to ensure it's 100% clean. There is no room for sloppiness on your resume.

**Spelling, grammar and punctuation:** A hiring manager will likely automatically dismiss your application if they spot a typo or grammatical error. "Make sure it's error-free and easy to read," Obeid said. "HR reps equate typos and errors with laziness. Use good English – the written word has a huge impact on the employer."

**Formatting:** "Review formatting very closely, including font, alignment and spacing," Bissot said. "Related issues can often be perceived as a sign of lacking technical skills and/or attention to detail."

**Headings:** Yao said that candidates often submit applications addressed to the wrong employer or outline experience that's irrelevant to the role. "Receiving a resume that's crafted and addressed to someone else – or worse, a competitor – can be a huge turnoff and will set a negative tone even if they do choose to continue reading your application."

# YOGI VEMANA UNIVERSITY,KADAPA
# DEPARTMENT OF ENGLISH
**M.A ENGLISH LITERATUREAND LANGUAGE**
# SEMESTER - II
**ENGYVU206: ESSENTIAL COMMUNICATION SKILLS IN ENGLISH – I**
**OPEN ELECTIVE (A)**
**With Effect From 2021-22(Under NEP 2020)**

## Program Educational Objectives (PEOs)

- To enhance the learner's communication skills by giving adequate exposure in LSRWlistening, speaking, reading and writing skills and the related sub-skills.
- To help the learners recognize and operate in various styles and registers in English.
- To help the learner get rid of his present flaws and mistakes in pronunciation and grammar.
- To impart better writing skills by sensitizing the learners to the dynamics of effective writing.
- Enabling the learner to achieve adequate linguistic skills to help him compete international certification tests of English such as IELTS and TOEFL.

**UNIT I.Communication :1. Objectives of Communication 2. Types of Communication**
**3. Verbal and Non-verbal Communication**
**4. Characteristics of Successful Communication**
**5 Principles and Barriers of Communication**

**UNIT II.Listening : 1. The Listening Process 2. Types of Listening**
**3. Principles of Good Listening 4. Listening with a purpose**
**5. Barriers to Listening**

**UNIT III Speaking: 1. Phonetics 2. Syllable 3. Word Stress**
**4. Accent and Rhythm in Connected Speech**
**5. Intonation `**
**6. American and British Accents**

**UNIT IV Writing: 1. Principles of Effective writing**
**2. Formal and Informal Letter Writing 3. E-mail**
**4. Resume & Job application**

## Program Specific Outcomes (PSOs)

- Students will develop knowledge, skills, and judgment around human communication that facilitate their ability to work collaboratively with others.
- Such skills could include communication competencies such as managing conflict, understanding small group processes, active listening, appropriate self-disclosure, etc.

## Suggested Reading :


- Essentials of Business Communication by RajendraRao
- A Course in Listening and Speaking II
- Business Correspondence and Report Writing R.C. Sharma Krishna Mohan
- Communication – C.S. Rayudu, Himalaya Publishing House
- Business Communication – D.D. Chaturvedi, MukeshChaturvedi (Pearson Edu.)


**********

**ESSENTIAL COMMUNICATION SKILLS IN ENGLISH-1**

**OPEN ELECTIVE**

# Unit: 1.
# Communication

**Types of Communication:**

In preparing for my Fall course: *Communications for Professionals*, I've been thinking more and more about the different types of communication. In previous years, I have outlined four types of communication, but I believe there are actually five types of communication: verbal, non-verbal, written, listening, and visual.

## VERBAL COMMUNICATION

Verbal communication occurs when we engage in speaking with others. It can be face-to-face, over the telephone, via Skype or Zoom, etc. Some verbal engagements are informal, such as chatting with a friend over coffee or in the office kitchen, while others are more formal, such as a scheduled meeting. Regardless of the type, it is not just about the words, it is also about the caliber and complexity of those words, how we string those words together to create an overarching message, as well as the intonation (pitch, tone, cadence, etc.) used while speaking. And when occurring face-to-face, while the words are important, they cannot be separated from non-verbal communication.

## NON-VERBAL COMMUNICATION

What we do while we speak often says more than the actual words. Non-verbal communication includes facial expressions, posture, eye contact, hand movements, and touch. For example, if you're engaged in a conversation with your boss about your cost-saving idea, it is importants to pay attention to both the their words and their non-verbal communication. Your boss might be in agreement with your idea verbally, but their nonverbal cues: avoiding eye contact, sighing, scrunched up face, etc. indicate something different.

## WRITTEN COMMUNICATION

Whether it is an email, a memo, a report, a Face book post, a Tweet, a contract, etc. all forms of written communication have the same goal to disseminate information in a clear and concise manner – though that objective is often not achieved. In fact, poor writing skills often lead to confusion and embarrassment, and even potential legal jeopardy. One important thing to remember about written communication, especially in the digital age, is the message lives on, perhaps in perpetuity. Thus, there are two things

to remember: first, write well – poorly constructed sentences and careless errors make you look bad; and second, ensure the content of the message is something you want to promote or be associated with for the long haul.

## LISTENING

The act of listening does not often make its way onto the list of types of communication. Active listening, however, is perhaps one of the most important types of communication because if we cannot listen to the person sitting across from us, we cannot effectively engage with them. Think about a negotiation – part of the process is to assess what the opposition wants and needs. Without listening, it is impossible to assess that, which makes it difficult to achieve a win/win outcome.

## VISUAL COMMUNICATION

We are a visual society. Think about it, televisions are running 24/7, Facebook is visual with memes, videos, images, etc., Instagram is an image-only platform, and advertisers use imagery to sell products and ideas. Think about from a personal perspective – the images we post on social media are meant to convey meaning – to communicate a message. In some cases that message might be, look at me, I'm in Italy or I just won an award. Others are carefully curated to tug on our heartstrings – injured animals, crying children, etc.

We communicate continually throughout each and every day. We do it without thinking – we operate on communication autopilot. However, I encourage you to think about how you communicate. How do you communicate verbally? What nonverbal cues do you use when you are disinterested? Excited? Nervous? Are you a good listener? Can you write a concise, clearly articulated message? Are there barriers to how you communicate effectively?

Understanding how you communicate is the first step to communicating more effectively. You can easily look online for communication courses.

## B. characteristics of Successful Communication

### The 7 Cs of Communication

With people during the day. You write emails, facilitate meetings, participate in conference calls, create reports, devise presentations, debate with your colleagues… the list goes on. We can spend almost our entire day communicating. So, it stands to reason that communicating clearly and effectively can boost productivity.

This is why the 7 Cs of Communication are helpful. The 7 Cs provide a checklist for making sure that your meetings, emails, conference calls, reports, and presentations are well constructed and clear – so your audience gets your message. In this article and in the video, below, we'll look at each of the 7 Cs of Communication, and illustrate each element with both good and bad examples.

According to the 7 Cs, communication needs to be:

8. Clear.
9. Concise.
10. Concrete.
11. Correct.
12. Coherent.
13. Complete.
14. Courteous.

**1. Clear**

When writing or speaking to someone, be clear about your goal or message. What is your purpose in communicating with this person? If you're not sure, then your audience won't be either.

To be clear, try to minimize the number of ideas in each sentence. Make sure that it's easy for your reader to understand your meaning. People shouldn't have to "read between the lines" and make assumptions on their own to understand what you're trying to say. What is this email about? Well, we're not sure. First, if there are multiple Daniels in John's department, John won't know who Skip is talking about. Next, what is Daniel doing, specifically, that's so great? We don't know that either. It's so vague, that John will definitely have to write back for more information.

Last, what is the purpose of this email? Does Skip simply want to have an idle chat about Daniel or is there some more specific goal here? There's no sense of purpose to this message, so it's a bit confusing.

Example

I wanted to write you a quick note about Daniel Kedar, who's working in your department. In recent weeks, he's helped the IT department through several pressing deadlines on his own time. We've got a tough upgrade project due to run over the next three months, and his knowledge and skills would prove invaluable. Could we please have his help with this work?

I'd appreciate speaking with you about this. When is it best to call you to discuss this further? This second message is much clearer because the reader has the information he needs to take action.

**2. Concise**

When you're concise in your communication, you stick to the point and keep it brief. Your audience doesn't want to read six sentences when you could communicate your message in three. Ask yourself:

- Are there any adjectives or "filler words" that you can delete? You can often eliminate words like "for instance," "you see," "definitely," "kind of," "literally," "basically," or "I mean."
- Are there any unnecessary sentences?
- Have you repeated the point several times, in different ways?

I wanted to touch base with you about the email marketing campaign we kind of sketched out last Thursday. I really think that our target market is definitely going to want to see the company's philanthropic efforts. I think that could make a big impact, and it would stay in their minds longer than a sales pitch.

For instance, if we talk about the company's efforts to become sustainable, as well as the charity work we're doing in local schools, then the people that we want to attract are going to remember our message longer. The impact will just be greater.

This email is too long! There's repetition, and there's plenty of "filler" taking up space.

***Example***

I wanted to quickly discuss the email marketing campaign that we analyzed last Thursday. Our target market will want to know about the company's philanthropic efforts, especially our goals to become sustainable and help local schools. This would make a far greater impact, and it would stay in their minds longer than a traditional sales pitch.

**3. Concrete**

When your message is concrete, your audience has a clear picture of what you're telling them. There are details (but not too many!) and vivid facts, and there's laser-like focus. Your message is solid.

A statement like this probably won't sell many of these products. There's no passion, no vivid detail, nothing that creates emotion, and nothing that tells

people in the audience why they should care. This message isn't concrete enough to make a difference.

***Example***

How much time do you spend every day packing your kids' lunches? No more! Just take a complete Lunchbox Wizard from your refrigerator each day to give your kids a healthy lunch **and** have more time to play or read with them!

This copy is better because there are vivid images. The audience can picture spending quality time with their kids – and what parent could argue with that? And mentioning that the product is stored in the refrigerator explains how the product is also practical. The message has come alive through these details.

**4. Correct**

When your communication is correct, your audience will be able to understand it. And correct communication is also error-free communication. Make sure your message is correct by asking yourself the following questions:

- Do the technical terms you use fit your audience's level of education or knowledge?
- Have you checked your writing for grammatical errors? (Remember, spell checkers won't catch everything).
- Are all names and titles spelled correctly?

Thanks so much for meeting me at lunch today! I enjoyed our conservation, and I'm looking forward to moving ahead on our project. I'm sure that the two-weak deadline won't be an issue.

If you read that example fast, then you might not have caught any errors. But on closer inspection, you'll find two. Can you see them? The first error is that the writer accidentally typed conservation instead of conversation. This common error can happen when you're typing too fast. The other error is using weak instead of week. Again, spell checkers won't catch word errors like this, which is why it's so important to proofread everything!

**5. Coherent**

When your communication is coherent, it's logical. All points are connected and relevant to the main topic, and the tone and flow of the text is consistent.

I wanted to write you a quick note about the report you finished last week. I gave it to Michelle to proof, and she wanted to make sure you knew about the department

meeting we're having this Friday. We'll be creating an outline for the new employee handbook.

As you can see, this email doesn't communicate its point very well. Where is Michelle's feedback on Traci's report? She started to mention it, but then she changed the topic to Friday's meeting.

***Example***

I wanted to write you a quick note about the report you finished last week. I gave it to Michelle to proof, and she let me know that there are a few changes that you'll need to make. She'll email you her detailed comments later this afternoon.

Notice that in the good example, Michelle does not mention Friday's meeting. This is because the meeting reminder should be an entirely separate email. This way, Traci can delete the report feedback email after she makes her changes, but save the email about the meeting as her reminder to attend. Each email has only one main topic.

**6. Complete**

In a complete message, the audience has everything they need to be informed and, if applicable, take action.

- Does your message include a "call to action," so that your audience clearly knows what you want them to do?
- Have you included all relevant information – contact names, dates, times, locations, and so on?

I just wanted to send you all a reminder about the meeting we're having tomorrow!

This message is not complete, for obvious reasons. What meeting? When is it? Where? Chris has left his team without the necessary information.

***Example***

I just wanted to remind you about tomorrow's meeting on the new telecommuting policies. The meeting will be at 10 a.m. in the second-level conference room. Please let me know if you can't attend.

**7. Courteous**

Courteous communication is friendly, open and honest. There are no hidden insults or passive-aggressive tones. You keep your reader's viewpoint in mind, and you're empathetic to their needs.

## B). Principles of communication

The principles of communication are no more than tips on achieving mutual understanding, of which there are too many to count. Remote teams may have to employ some different methods, but the end goal is always the same.

With this in mind, this blog post aims to establish the definitive 10 principles of communication remote teams should follow by leveraging our considerable experience with this topic. But first, let’s take a look at some of the reasons why communication doesn’t always end in mutual understanding.

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**Conclusion**

Despite our assumption that what we say is exactly how people understand us, various communication barriers stand in the way of effective communication. Remote teams suffer from highly pronounced physical barriers, but they are not immune to any others. And given that many remote teams function on an asynchronous schedule, with employees possibly scattered across the world, language barriers and cultural barriers are also likely to cause some issues here. Unfortunately, this blog post won't deal with the latter two barriers specifically. For that, you should check out our tips on perfecting cross-cultural communication.

Instead, what follows will be a checklist of 10 generalized communication principles that can help remote teams facilitate effective communication.

The 10 principles of communication

Understanding that the principles of communication have not been conveniently pre-packaged by academic journals — least of all the principles of communication for remote teams specifically — we offer our own 10 tips for improving the success rate of striking mutual understanding in this working environment.

**1. Principle of concept**

*PREPARE AHEAD OF TIME*

One of the upsides of working in remote teams is that you generally have enough time to prepare for communication before engaging in it. Research suggests that remote team

communication is most effective when organized in rapid bursts, which are then followed by long periods of uninterrupted, or deep work. This, along with the study results that show video meeting fatigue sets in very quickly, means that remote workers need to have a more thoughtful approach to communication so as to reach a mutual understanding before meeting fatigue kicks in.

This is why we advocate the principle of concept as the first principle of communication remote teams should follow — and here's how it goes.

Make sure that you are prepared by outlining exactly what it is you wish to communicate. If your presentation follows a certain outline and several people are following it, consider sharing the outline with them to give them a point of reference that will help them stay on track and follow you. This has the added benefit of preventing you from splitting into unnecessary tangents. But even the very act of articulating your goal to yourself can do a lot to help steer communication in the right direction.

**2. Principle of clarity**

*AVOID BUSINESS JARGON*

The principle of clarity is arguably the most important of the 10 principles. And unlike some others, we have complete control over it. We alone are responsible for the way we phrase our utterances. If we're mindful of our goal (mutual understanding), then our choice of words should help us reach said goal. There are several ways in which you can do this, but they all follow this one simple rule: **Avoiding prolixity**.

Unless our goal here is to get you to Google the word *prolixity* (which it is, just to demonstrate a point, but let's pretend it isn't), then this would be a perfect example of what you shouldn't do, which is use confusing vocabulary. Jargon can serve to make you appear more knowledgeable about a subject, but unless the person on the other end of the conversation is equally perspicacious on the given subject, most of what you say will come across as intellectual flimflam. You're more likely to cause gargalesthesia or come across as a morosoph, so don't be obdurate about this. If you're this type of communicator, a profound metanoia about communication will do wonders in helping you strike mutual understanding.

To rephrase the previous paragraph in a way that doesn't sound pretentious: Don't use business jargon or unnecessarily complicated words that obscure meaning or otherwise obstruct communication. Sure, they may make you appear smarter, but the goal isn't to appear smarter; the goal is to establish mutual understanding. This type of talk can only serve to turn the audience into passive listeners. If you want to be understood, you must find ways of communicating your intentions in a clear and easily understandable way.

**3. Principle of attention**

*LISTEN ATTENTIVELY*

No matter how well put together a sentence is, it won't do us much good if we're bad listeners.

This is why focusing on ways you can improve your listening skills is paramount to effective communication.

We can extend the phrase *listening skills* to entail everything the person on the receiving end of communication does.

As Alex Goryachev put it in his Forbes article on innovation and communication: "*People listen mostly to respond, rather than to understand*." In short, there can be no collaboration without communication, and there can be no communication without listening. Leaders, in particular, have a lot to gain from listening to what their subordinates have to say and evaluating all their accumulated suggestions before retaking the reins of the conversation.

For something less abstract, here is the first step you should take in order to become a better listener:

**Don't jump to conclusions**!

This is a proclivity no one is immune to. We like to play detectives. The sooner we can infer a conclusion from scattered pieces of information, the better we feel about our deduction skills. It's as if figuring out what the other person means is more important than listening to them and letting them arrive at their conclusion. But this is no way to treat communication, especially in a remote team.

It bears noting that communication is not a race against time. Even if it were a race against time, in cases of bomb defusal, you'd still be better off attentively listening to the person on the other end of the line and not jumping to conclusions and cutting the wrong wire! Be patient and let the other person make their points. This way, the conclusion will find you.

**4. Principle of assertiveness**

*COMMUNICATE ASSERTIVELY*

You've all heard this quote. It really is a terrible mindset to take with you in any team, least of all a remote one. But while communication is a two-way street, there certainly are things you can do to motivate attentiveness in people you're communicating with. The best advice we can give is to be more assertive in communication with your remote team.

For example, while conversing in person, we would normally reaffirm our interest in the subject and the interlocutor by looking them in the eyes. Remote workers usually only see eye to eye during video conference calls, but here, to achieve the same effect

you should instead look directly at your camera. If you look the person in the eye on your display, you'll appear to be looking elsewhere. Of our 9 tips for assertive communication in remote teams, this one is by far the most unintuitive, but it yields results.

The healthy communication environment that assertive communicators promote makes others more likely to engage in the conversation and understand our points. Assertiveness also lends itself well to written communication, where miscommunication is even likelier to occur without it.

**5. Principle of feedback**

*AFFIRM MUTUAL UNDERSTANDING*

Assuming that your message has been understood just the way you intended is not a good habit to get into. It helps to remind yourself that communication is comprised of three distinct parts: the sender, the message, and the receiver. Brelo's model of communication takes this several steps further by outlining the following **six steps of communication**:

The communications source (in this case you)

The encoding of the message

The message

The delivery method of the message

The decoding of the message

The message receiver

As you can see, not only are the sender and the message clearly not one and the same, but the receiver is plenty distant as well. Integrating the principle of feedback into your communication can feel unnatural, but nothing can inform you of the success or failure of establishing mutual understanding quite like it.

The way to implement it is quite simple — you ask the other person to repeat what they understood. If they get it right, you give them the a-okay. If they get it wrong, you attempt to communicate your idea again and ask them to repeat it once more. To illustrate how this works, we can turn back to our bomb defusal example, where the person cutting the wires would be better off confirming that they understood the technician correctly before clenching the pliers.

As with looking into the camera during conference calls, this will require an upfront investment of effort, but the more you do it, the more casual you and everyone else will become about it. Furthermore, it won't take long for this type of feedback to prove itself useful — it has the power to defuse miscommunication before any problems arise,

at which point everyone will understand its usefulness and be more open to participating.

6. Principle of informality

*USE INFORMAL COMMUNICATION CHANNELS*

One of the steps in Brelo's model of communication is *the delivery method of the message*. A message with the same content will be communicated differently depending on the medium used. Formal communication channels like emails or formal one-on-ones may well be the first association for business communication that comes to mind, but among remote teams, informal communication channels (better known as grapevine communication) have proven more effective.

To this effect, many remote teams turn to a business messaging app, like Pumble — which can be used both by management as an official channel of communication and by all employees as an informal communication channel. Pumble not only facilitates faster communication but can also tap into the other benefits of informal workplace communication, such as team-building and feedback facilitation. Outside of using a team messaging app, adhering to the principle of feedback is all but impossible in remote teams. Can you even imagine trying that out via email?

Example of a remote team communicating via Pumble

**7. Principle of consistency**

*DON'T BE MISLEADING*

Likewise, it's important to keep the contents and the tone of a message uniform. It's been shown that, when misaligned, we tend to give more credence to the tone of a message than we do to its contents. You can substitute *tone* for any other cue of non-verbal communication and the results would be the same. As illustrated above, if someone shouts "*I am not angry"* at you, in a tone of voice that unequivocally suggests they are angry, you're not going to take their words at face value. Instead, you will infer the truthfulness of the message from its tone, i.e. you will understand that they are, in fact, angry.

This is just one mode of consistency to watch out for, and while it may not be the mode most often encountered at work, it serves as a fine example to illustrate the overall importance of tonal consistency. Furthermore, you must look at whether the information you are communicating is consistent with previous information. If the directions management gives now are inconsistent with their previous directions, and they don't elaborate on these inconsistencies or highlight what should take precedence, it will most certainly cause misunderstandings and confusion.

This has been proven on a large scale during the Covid-19 pandemic outbreak, when new and different preventative and safety measures were first being implemented, one after another, in a manner that can only be described as confusing.

**8. Principle of rhetoric**

*LEARN TO BE PERSUASIVE*

The goal of communication is often persuasion, be it persuading someone to click a link, buy your product, agree with your points of view, or anything else. The ancient-greek modes of persuasion (ethos, pathos, logos) have aided humanity in effective persuasion for thousands of years.

Nominally, these modes of persuasion are taught as integral parts of a good speech. However, you can use any combination of them in everyday communication. Here's a quick refresher on what these concepts mean:

**Ethos** is used to establish your credibility on the topic of the speech, either by providing your professional credentials or referring to the work or words of other professionals. For example, if you wish to dominate a topic on preventing workplace injuries, you can start your monologue by saying "*As a physical therapist with decades of clinical experience,"* or, (and this is more likely) "*According to the Bureau of Labour Statistics (BLS)."*

**Logos** is used to appeal to the intellectual side of your brain, by providing facts and statistics. "*According to BLS, a third of all worker injury or illnesses in 2013 were due to musculoskeletal disorders*." As you can see, ethos and logos go hand in hand when you cite sources to establish the authority of your argument.

**Pathos** is a plea to the emotional side of the brain. "*If nothing is done to improve workplace ergonomics, soon it will be your children who are developing symptoms of De Quervain's tenosynovitis, or worse.*"

Different people respond to different modes of persuasion. Pathos may not work on someone governed by logic, just like logos may prove ineffective on folks guided by emotionsExample of an employee using ethos and logos to persuade his co-workers in Pumble

**9. Principle of timeliness**

*COMMUNICATE ON TIME*

"*A wizard is never late, nor is he early*," said Gandalf, the wise mentor from "The Lord of the Rings". If you were a wizard, you could bank on the most opportune time to communicate conveniently coinciding with your earliest convenience. Alas, you are not a wizard, so bear this in mind: Not all information is *better late than never*. This is why many remote teams turn to team communication apps to help keep their members in sync.

Under the principle of concept, we've already mentioned how patterns for most effective conference call scheduling are emerging, but this isn't the only way to communicate your thoughts and ideas.

Adhering to the principle of timeliness entails making efforts to ensure you communicate at the right time. Information that arrives too late can often be useless. On the other hand, information that arrives too early can easily be dismissed as irrelevant. The window you have for effectively communicating time-sensitive information is often shorter than the window you have to congratulate your friend's or family member's birthday without adding the dreaded *belated* — and we all know how well that turns out without making a conscious effort.

Just like wishing someone a happy birthday is *timeliest* on the actual date of their birthday, you should be aware that many business-related pieces of information have an expiration date. To this end, the use of a real-time team communication app is essential.

Example of an employee communicating in a timely manner on Pumble

**10. Principle of adequacy**

*OFFER COMPLETE MEANING*

To make the meaning of your message as clear as you can, you must ensure that it is adequately complete. Unless you're relying on luck, communicating a complete message gives you the best chance of reaching mutual understanding. But what does it mean for a message to be *adequately* complete? Well, consider the following example:

"*I'm rescheduling the meeting that was due in 15 minutes for later this afternoon. Something came up. I've attached the outline for the meeting. Please familiarize yourself with its contents so that we can get through it more efficiently.*"

On its own, this message is complete enough to communicate clear instructions to your team. Sometimes, this is all you want or need to do.

But if you're looking to communicate your thoughts or feelings on a matter, the contents of the message should adequately reflect this — in other words, you have to be explicit.

If you want to let the other team members know you value their time and don't feel good about this sudden inconvenience, you'll have to add something like this: "*It feels frustrating having to do this last minute."* Likewise, it may help to let the team know why they got stood up. Juggling remote work and parenting is an act many remote employees practice on a daily basis, so a reason such as "*my daughter spilled piping hot water on her legs and I have to take her to ER*" will help signal the urgency of your situation.

Again, it's important to highlight that all versions of this message are complete in their own way. Making the message adequately means including all the info you want and expect others to know.

**Conclusion**

The challenges remote teams face are many and largely unresearched, but communication need not be one of them. So long as you stay aware of the fact that your utterances aren't always a one-to-one translation of the idea you wish to convey, and that the person on the other end of communication may interpret those utterances in a wholly different way, you can get ahead of the problem by employing these 10 principles of communication.

## B). Barriers of communication

Communicating is easy, right? After all, we communicate every day. So why does interacting with people sometimes feel so difficult, complicated or frustrating? In these situations, you are probably encountering one of the key communication barriers that can hinder both professional and personal relationships. Here are seven of the most common communication barriers that get in the way of good relationships.

**Physical Barriers**

Research shows that proximity is important for building cohesive teams, yet workplaces often stifle this with a range of physical communication barriers. These can include desk and office dividers, closed office doors, separate areas for people of different statuses, and 'team territories' that others avoid. The rise in home working has added further communication barriers, giving rise to a wealth of online collaboration tools to help people feel more connected. Nevertheless, there are concerns that an inability to collaborate is directly affecting our creativity and innovation.

To combat this, some businesses are using basic skills training to optimise the way people use online productivity tools. At a minimum, make sure everyone is comfortable with working with Zoom and other platforms so they can make a productive contribution to calls. If you manage remote team meetings you may be interested in Help Out at Home

**Perceptual Barriers**

These communication barriers exist in people's minds based on how they perceive the world around them. They can be caused by the many cognitive biases of the human mind that prevent us from perceiving people and situations accurately.

Individuals may also have their own unique biases based on previous experience and the influence of others.

Ask yourself what perceptions might be holding you or others back from communicating effectively. To encourage others to question their perceptions, try this short anecdote.

***Read this Article about Equality and Diversity***

Everyone falls foul of their cognitive biases from time to time, which is why we should always challenge our thinking. The different perspectives of others can help you see where your own thought patterns can be improved. Familiarise yourself with the key cognitive biases so you can appreciate when they may be affecting communication. However, avoid tackling people's beliefs head-on. They will have solid reasons for thinking the way they do, and you need to understand these clearly first.

## Emotional Barriers

Emotional communication barriers are the negative feelings we acquire about certain people, places and situations. Whether caused by bad experiences or the influence of others, they evoke emotions such as fear and mistrust that prevent effective interaction. Sometimes the barrier is simply fear of what others think about us, which may come from being taught to 'mind our Ps and Qs' or 'never speak until you are spoken to' when we were children. Although caution is wise, excessive fear of what others think stunts development and inhibits your ability to build better relationships.

Most people will have experienced a moment when their emotions got the better of them, and the resulting effect it had on personal relationships and the dynamic of a group. Anger and fear are two of the most powerful emotions, whether directed outwardly or inwardly. When we experience these emotions intensely, we are less able to process what goes on around us rationally. Things become framed in our anger or fear.

If emotion is causing issues, then it may require a proactive solution to enhance the interpersonal dynamics of a group. For example, an angry person needs to cool off, so it's best to break up the gathering to allow the person time to think. Bear in mind that emotions can affect our perceptions. To resolve an emotional barrier, try to identify if a misunderstanding or misconception is the root cause of someone's reaction.

## Cultural Barriers

To be accepted as a member of a group, we often need to adopt patterns of behaviour that the group perceives as a sign of belonging. For example, honesty, openness, diligence, banter or a sense of humour. Cultural communication barriers arise if you don't understand the group's required behaviour patterns, which increases the risk of doing something its members frown upon.

To resolve cultural barriers, try to understand their behaviour, how it came to be, and why it sparks negative feelings. Naturally, the context of the environment is everything in choosing how to proceed and what is best overall. When someone joins a group, it can help to orientate them about how the group works, and even with associated aspects such as how it socialises. As well as being welcoming, this also helps to minimise misunderstandings.

**Take a Look at this Article about Cross-Cultural Issues**

## Language Barriers

Language causes communication barriers if you use words that other people are unfamiliar with. As soon as you introduce these words, you begin to exclude others. Bear in mind this includes expressions, buzzwords and jargon. In business, we must always talk to people in their own language if we want to understand them and influence their behaviour. One of the more chilling memories of the Cold War was hearing Soviet leader Nikita Khrushchev telling the US, This was taken to mean a threat of nuclear annihilation, but a more accurate interpretation was simply,

By this, he meant achieving economic superiority.

Effective communicators get to know their conversational counterparts so they can judge which words to use. Talking to someone in their own language doesn't necessarily mean learning German for a specific meeting, but making sure you only use words that everyone will understand. Always be sympathetic to other people as they may not recognise the technical terms, acronyms and colloquialisms you use on a daily basis. Furthermore, be careful how you react as people may simply be using the wrong word to express themselves.

**Check out Ten Tips For Cross-Cultural Communication**

## Gender Barriers

Gender barriers to communication can still cause issues occasionally, and are perhaps some of the subtlest to identify. They often arise when someone has an oversimplified or stereotypical idea of how a gender behaves. This can cause them to act in a way that impedes open, honest and appropriate communication with others.

Gender barriers are closely linked to cultural barriers, particularly differences in nationality and age group. Bear in mind that not everyone has the same ability to adapt to the values of a different culture, or 'move with the times' as we attempt to progress towards a more equal society. There are also physiological differences between the genders that affect the way we communicate. Neurology helps us understand which parts of the brain are active when we speak, and how that affects our communication. To overcome gender barriers, promote equality at all times and look for ways to achieve greater balance within a group. It can also help to educate people about gender bias if you sense it is causing an issue.

**See Improving Team Performance Top 10 Tips**

## Interpersonal Barriers

Interpersonal barriers are patterns of behaviour that prevent you from communicating effectively, or that prevent people from communicating with you.

This could be because of something the person is doing consciously, such as deliberately switching off their phone or closing their door because they don't want to speak to anyone. However, it is often more likely to be something they are doing unconsciously. For example, our feelings about someone or something can be expressed through our body language. This is perceived by the other person, and causes them to react accordingly.

These communication barriers can be tricky to identify as there may be many drivers. For example, a person may have difficulties at work that causes them to withdraw. They may have issues with self-esteem that drives a lack of assertiveness. They may have superiority issues that give them a tendency towards being overbearing or belittling. Workplace cultures, disorganization and greater prevalence of distance working can also cause and exacerbate issues. The best advice is to observe the patterns of communication that occur when people are together, and look for clues as to what might be causing issues.

## Break Through The Barriers

Identifying barriers is an essential communication skill that helps with management, networking, sales and generally being able to influence people. It is as valuable to written communication as it is to verbal. This is why great communicators develop a keen sense for when communication isn't going as well as it should. As soon as you detect this, start looking for the clues.

Ask questions to learn more about the person and their perception of the situation. Listen to what they say, and watch their body language to identify what they might really be thinking and feeling. Improving the way you communicate is a broad-brush activity that also benefits from looking at many aspects of yourself. As you communicate, try to change your own thoughts and feelings and see how it improves the interaction.

Boost your everyday communication skills

This is often the first step to breaking down communication barriers and building better relationships with colleagues, family members and friends.

**Unit:II**
**LISTENING**

## The Listening Process

Listening is a skill of critical significance in all aspects of our lives, from maintaining our personal relationships, to getting our jobs done, to taking notes in class, to figuring out which bus to take to the airport. Regardless of how we're engaged with listening, it's important to understand that listening involves more than just hearing the words that are directed at us. Listening is an active process by which we make sense of, assess, and respond to what we hear.

The listening process involves five stages: receiving, understanding, evaluating, remembering, and responding. These stages will be discussed in more detail in later sections. An effective listener must hear and identify the speech sounds directed toward them, understand the message of those sounds, critically evaluate or assess that message, remember what's been said, and respond (either verbally or nonverbally) to information they've received. Effectively engaging in all five stages of the listening process lets us best gather the information we need from the world around us.

### Active Listening

Active listening is a particular communication technique that requires the listener to provide feedback on what he or she hears to the speaker, by way of restating or paraphrasing what they have heard in their own words. The goal of this repetition is to confirm what the listener has heard and to confirm the understanding of both parties. The ability to actively listen demonstrates sincerity, and that nothing is being assumed

or taken for granted. Active listening is most often used to improve personal relationships, reduce misunderstanding and conflicts, strengthen cooperation, and foster understanding. When engaging with a particular speaker, a listener can use several degrees of active listening, each resulting in a different quality of communication with the speaker. This active listening chart shows three main degrees of listening: repeating, paraphrasing, and reflecting.

Active listening can also involve paying attention to the speaker's behavior and body language. Having the ability to interpret a person's body language lets the listener develop a more accurate understanding of the speaker's message.

**The Receiving Stage**

The first stage of the listening process is the receiving stage, which involves hearing and attending.

Hearing is the physiological process of registering sound waves as they hit the eardrum. As obvious as it may seem, in order to effectively gather information through listening, we must first be able to physically hear what we're listening to. The clearer the sound, the easier the listening process becomes.

Paired with hearing, attending is the other half of the receiving stage in the listening process. Attending is the process of accurately identifying and interpreting particular sounds we hear as words. The sounds we hear have no meaning until we give them their meaning in context. Listening is an active process that constructs meaning from both verbal and nonverbal messages.

**The Challenges of Reception**

Listeners are often bombarded with a variety of auditory stimuli all at once, so they must differentiate which of those stimuli are speech sounds and which are not. Effective listening involves being able to focus on speech sounds while disregarding other noise. For instance, a train passenger that hears the captain's voice over the loudspeaker understands that the captain is speaking, then deciphers what the captain is saying despite other voices in the cabin. Another example is trying to listen to a friend tell a story while walking down a busy street. In order to best listen to what she's saying, the listener needs to ignore the ambient street sounds.

Attending also involves being able to discern human speech, also known as Identifying auditory stimuli as speech but not being able to break those speech sounds down into sentences and words would be a failure of the listening process. Discerning speech segmentation can be a more difficult activity when the listener is faced with an unfamiliar language.

**The Understanding Stage**

The second stage in the listening process is the understanding stage. Understanding or comprehension occurs when both the speaker and audience share an experience of meaning, and constitutes the first step in the listening process. This is the stage during which the audience determines the context and meanings of the words they hear. Determining the context and meaning of individual words, as well as assigning meaning in language, is essential to understanding sentences, and, thus, both are essential to understanding a speaker's message.

Once the listener understands the speaker's main point, they can begin to sort out the rest of the information they are hearing and decide where it belongs in their mental outline. For example, a political candidate listens to her opponent's arguments to understand what policy decisions that opponent supports.

Before getting the big picture of a message, it can be difficult to focus on what the speaker is saying. Think about walking into a lecture class halfway through. You may immediately understand the words and sentences that you are hearing, but not immediately understand what the lecturer is proving or whether what you're hearing at the moment is the main point, side note, or digression.

Understanding what we hear is a huge part of our everyday lives, particularly in terms of gathering basic information. In the office, people listen to their superiors for instructions about what they are to do. At school, students listen to teachers to learn new ideas. We listen to political candidates give policy speeches in order to determine who will get our vote. But without understanding what we hear, none of this everyday listening would relay any practical information to us. One tactic for better understanding a speaker's meaning is to ask questions. Asking questions allows the listener to fill in any holes he or she may have in the mental reconstruction of the speaker's message.

**The Evaluating Stage**

This stage of the listening process is the one during which the listener assesses the information they received, both qualitatively and quantitatively. Evaluating allows the listener to form an opinion of what they heard and, if necessary, to begin developing a response.

During the evaluating stage, the listener determines whether or not the information they heard and understood from the speaker is well constructed or disorganized, biased or unbiased, true or false, significant or insignificant. They also ascertain how and why the speaker has come up with and conveyed the message that they delivered. This process may involve considerations of a speaker's personal or professional motivations and goals. For example, a listener may determine that a co-worker's vehement condemnation of another for jamming the copier is factually correct, but may also understand that the co-worker's child is sick and that may be putting them on edge. A voter who listens to and understands the points made in a political candidate's stump speech can decide whether those points were convincing enough to earn their vote.

The evaluating stage occurs most effectively once the listener fully understands what the speaker is trying to say. While we can, and sometimes do, form opinions of information and ideas that we don't fully understand—or even that we misunderstand—doing so is not often ideal in the long run. Having a clear understanding of a speaker's message allows a listener to evaluate that message without getting bogged down in ambiguities or spending unnecessary time and energy addressing points that may be tangential or otherwise non-essential.

This stage of critical analysis is important for a listener in terms of how what they heard will affect their own ideas, decisions, actions, and/or beliefs.

**The Remembering Stage**

In the listening process, the remembering stage occurs as the audience categorizes and retains the information they've gathered from the speaker for future access. The result—memory—allows the person to record information about people, objects, and events for later recall. This process happens both during and after the speaker's delivery.

Memory is essential throughout the listening process. We depend on our memory to fill in the blanks when we're listening and to let us place what we're hearing at the moment in the context of what we've heard before. If, for example, you forgot everything that you heard immediately after you heard it, you would not be able to follow along with what a speaker says, and conversations would be impossible. Moreover, a friend who expresses fear about a dog she sees on the sidewalk ahead can help you recall that the friend began the conversation with her childhood memory of being attacked by a dog.

Remembering previous information is critical to moving forward. Similarly, making associations to past remembered information can help a listener understand what she is currently hearing in a wider context. In listening to a lecture about the symptoms of depression, for example, a listener might make a connection to the description of a character in a novel that she read years before.

Using information immediately after receiving it enhances information retention and lessens the forgetting curve or the rate at which we no longer retain information in our memory. Conversely, retention is lessened when we engage in mindless listening, and little effort is made to understand a speaker's message. Because everyone has different memories, the speaker and the listener may attach different meanings to the same statement. In this sense, establishing common ground in terms of context is extremely important, both for listeners and speakers.

**The Responding Stage**

The responding stage is the stage of the listening process wherein the listener provides verbal and/or nonverbal reactions based on short- or long-term memory. Following the remembering stage, a listener can respond to what they hear either verbally or non-verbally. Nonverbal signals can include gestures such as nodding, making eye contact,

tapping a pen, fidgeting, scratching or cocking their head, smiling, rolling their eyes, grimacing, or any other body language. These kinds of responses can be displayed purposefully or involuntarily. Responding verbally might involve asking a question, requesting additional information, redirecting or changing the focus of a conversation, cutting off a speaker, or repeating what a speaker has said back to her in order to verify that the received message matches the intended message.

Nonverbal responses like nodding or eye contact allow the listener to communicate their level of interest without interrupting the speaker, thereby preserving the speaker/listener roles. When a listener responds verbally to what they hear and remember—for example, with a question or a comment—the speaker/listener roles are reversed, at least momentarily.

Responding adds action to the listening process, which would otherwise be an outwardly passive process. Oftentimes, the speaker looks for verbal and nonverbal responses from the listener to determine if and how their message is being understood and/or considered. Based on the listener's responses, the speaker can choose to either adjust or continue with the delivery of her message. For example, if a listener's brow is furrowed and their arms are crossed, the speaker may determine that she needs to lighten their tone to better communicate their point. If a listener is smiling and nodding or asking questions, the speaker may feel that the listener is engaged and her message is being communicated effectively.

**Conclusion**

In short, active listening is crucial for establishing our ethos. If we hope to be persuasive, we need to demonstrate our good will, good character, and good judgement to others by carefully listening and responding to their messages.

## B). Types of Listening

# 7 types of listening skills

8. Informational listening
9. Discriminative listening
10. Biased listening
11. Sympathetic listening
12. Comprehensive listening
13. Empathetic or therapeutic listening
14. Critical listening

Let's explore seven of these types of listening, why they matter, and what they can look like:

**1. Informational listening**

When you want to learn something, you'll use informational listening to understand and retain information.

You also need to apply critical thinking to what you are learning. This is so you can understand what you're learning within the context of relevant information.

Some examples of informational listening include:

- Work training
- Self-paced learning at home or at work
- Listening to an educational ebook
- Coaching

When you know how to use informational listening, you empower yourself to become a better learner. By actively learning and improving yourself, you can become a more valuable asset in your place of work.

You can also feel more fulfilled when you pursue your passions and learn something new at home.

**2. Discriminative listening**

Discriminative listening is the first listening type that you're born with.

Everyone innately has discriminative listening skills.

You use this type of listening before you even know how to understand words. Instead of relying on words, discriminative listening uses tone of voice, verbal cues, and other changes in sound.

Discriminative listening is how babies understand the intention of a phrase before they can understand words. If someone speaks to them in a happy and amused tone of voice, they'll smile and laugh back.

They can also tell who is talking because they recognize different voices.

But discriminative listening isn't just for babies.

If you're listening to a conversation happening in a foreign language, you'll likely automatically use your discriminative listening skills.

These will allow you to analyze tone and inflection to get an idea of what is going on.

You can also use nonverbal cues to listen and analyze. For instance, someone's facial expressions, body language, and other mannerisms can tell you a lot about the meaning of someone's message. You shouldn't discount discriminative listening, even if you understand someone's language. This listening style is key to understanding the subtle cues in a conversation. Using this listening skill can help you read between the lines and hear what remains unspoken.

**Here's an example:**

Let's say you ask one of your colleagues if they agree with a course of action. They say yes, but you can tell from their body language, such as shifting uncomfortably, that something is wrong. Using your discriminative listening skills, you can pick up on this and ask them if they're certain. You can also ask if something is going on that they'd like to discuss.

**3. Biased listening**

Biased listening is also known as selective listening. Someone who uses biased listening will only listen for information that they specifically want to hear. This listening process can lead to a distortion of facts. That's because the person listening isn't fully in tune with what the speaker wishes to communicate.

**Here's an example:**

Let's say your superior is briefing you on a new project. You're waiting to hear about the details of this assignment because you've been excited for a long time about it.

Because you're so focused on the details of the assignment, you don't fully hear everything your superior says. As a result, you *hear* your superior explain how you'll be judged on this project, but you don't fully *process* it. Because you don't have this information, you may not perform as well as you could if you had understood all the details.

**4. Sympathetic listening**

Instead of focusing on the message spoken through words, the listener focuses on the feelings and emotions of the speaker. This is done to process these feelings and emotions. The speaker will feel heard and validated when you take the time to pay attention in this way. Sympathetic listening is crucial if you want to build a deeper relationship with someone in your life.

For example, let's say you run into a work colleague at the grocery store. They seem upset, so you decide to listen to what they have to say. You also use sympathetic listening to feel how they are feeling. In doing this, you notice how

frustrated they are about the lack of recognition they are getting at work. As a result, you can offer your support and sympathize with their situation.

**5. Comprehensive listening**

Unlike discriminative listening, comprehensive listening requires language skills. This type of listening is usually developed in early childhood. People use comprehensive listening to understand what someone is saying using words.

Several other types of listening build on comprehensive listening. For example, you need to use comprehensive listening to use informational listening and learn something new. At work and in your life, you'll likely use a combination of comprehensive and discriminative listening to understand the messages people are giving you.

**For example,** let's say your colleague briefs you on a project. You'll need to use comprehensive listening to analyze the words and understand the message.

**6. Empathetic or therapeutic listening**

Empathetic listening is useful to help you see from other people's perspectives. Using this type of listening, you can try to understand someone else's point of view as they're speaking. You can also try to imagine yourself in the other person's shoes. Instead of just focusing on their message, you can use empathetic listening to relate to someone else's experiences as if they were your own.

**This is different from sympathetic listening.**

With sympathetic listening, you try to understand someone's feelings to provide support. But you don't necessarily try to imagine what it'd feel like to be in their position.

**Here's an example:**

Let's say your superior just announced that this week's company outing is canceled due to budget cuts. By using empathetic listening, you can tell how much pressure your superior is feeling. You can imagine yourself having to break the bad news. You know there's pressure from higher-ups to respect the budget. You also know that there's pressure from employees. Instead of getting upset, you understand why your superior made this decision. That's because you can imagine what it's like to be in their shoes at this moment.

**7. Critical listening**

If you need to analyze complex information, you'll need to use critical listening.

Using critical thinking while listening goes deeper than comprehensive listening. Instead of taking the information at face value, you can use critical listening to evaluate what's being said. Critical listening is crucial when problem-solving at work.

**For example,** you'd use this type of listening when trying to choose how to handle an unusual and complex client request. You need to use this skill to analyze solutions offered by other people and decide if you agree or not. To do this, you don't just need to hear their words. You also need to look at the bigger picture and compare everything you know.

**B). Principles of Active Listening**

**There are five key elements of active listening.** They all help you ensure that you hear the other person, and that the other person knows you are listening to what they say.

**1. Pay attention.** Give the speaker your undivided attention, and acknowledge the message. Recognize that nonverbal communication also "speaks" loudly. Look at the speaker directly. Put aside distracting thoughts. Don't mentally prepare a rebuttal! Avoid being distracted by environmental factors. "Listen" to the speaker's body language. Refrain from side conversations when listening in a group setting.

**2. Show that you are listening.** Use your own body language and gestures to convey your attention. Nod occasionally. Smile and use other facial expressions. Note your posture and make sure it is open and inviting. Encourage the speaker to continue with small verbal comments like "Yes" and "Aha".

**3. Provide feedback.** Our personal filters, assumptions, judgments, and beliefs can distort what we hear. As a listener, your role is to understand what is being said. This may require you to reflect what is being said and ask questions. Reflect what has been said by paraphrasing. "What I'm hearing is" and "Sounds like you are saying" are great ways to reflect back. Ask questions to clarify certain points. "What do you mean when you say", "Is this what you mean?" Summarize the speaker's comments periodically. *Tip: If you find yourself responding emotionally to what someone said, say so, and ask for more information: "I may not understand you correctly, and I find myself taking what you said personally.

**4. Defer judgment.** Interrupting is a waste of time. It frustrates the speaker and limits full understanding of the message. Allow the speaker to finish. Don't interrupt with counter **arguments.**

**5. Respond Appropriately.** Active listening is a model for respect and understanding. You are gaining information and perspective. You add nothing by attacking the speaker or otherwise putting him or her down. Be candid, open, and honest in your response.

Assert your opinions respectfully. Treat the other person as s/he would want to be treated.

# B). Listening with a Purpose

Most people aren't the best communicators. Many times they don't really mean what they are saying. What they *actually* want to say is different from what they *are* saying. Unless you are listening with a purpose to understand their point of view, the communication will break down. There are obvious signs when there's a breakdown in communication. Especially when both parties charge angrily or storm out frustrated. But this doesn't happen abruptly. It starts with a small crack that slowly builds with time.

Here Simran is expressing how she feels about the whole thing—that she's the one who has to do all the work, but Raj isn't listening. Instead, Raj is countering her emotional state of mind with logic. This will never work. This is a classic example of failing to understand the difference between what is *said* and what is *meant*. When an employee comes to you and says, "I don't feel appreciated," your first job is to "acknowledge" their state of mind instead of disputing it with a set of counter examples. "What about the time we celebrated your birthday in office, didn't you feel appreciated?".

But what Harry is asking has nothing to do with what Sally is trying to say. His question serves the conversation that Harry is having with himself. "Who is this boss? Is she the new one? Yes, the new one was supposed to join a month back. Let me ask and confirm." Instead of supporting Sally, Harry is shifting the conversation to another direction.

We praise the great orators and speakers, but never the listeners. That's why we've raised a generation of people who can't wait for their turn to speak. Instead of listening and trying to understand what the other person is trying to say, we jump at our turn to make our case—like a litigator. While a bad listener can't wait to say their line, a purposeful listener listens with intent, clarifies uncertain points, often paraphrases what is said, and asks the speaker to expand on certain points. Their primary purpose is to understand, not to respond.

**Purposeful listeners** look for cues in the body language and the emotional state of the speaker. They try to calibrate their response accordingly. If the speaker is heavy with rage, frustration, or sadness, being logical won't help. If the speaker is looking for a solution then just being emotionally supportive won't help. Purposeful listeners know the difference. Listening with purpose is not trying to bring about a change in behaviour

of the speaker. People don't change so easily. Even if they change under the sway of strong emotions, this change isn't permanent.

In a conversation, you may have easy answers to the speaker's struggles. Listening with purpose means understanding their point of view, their logic, and their story without being judgemental and without getting enraged or frustrated. If you listen to people without judgement they put their guards down and open up like a flower. They become more considerate and open to reason and change. This is how you help them. Listening is one of the foundations of society. It's how we form meaningful relationships and connections with other folks. And yet, we rarely treat listening—like reading and talking—as a skill that requires knowledge and practice.

# C). Barriers of Listening

**What Are Some Common Barriers to Effective Listening?**

According to a study from the University of Minnesota, people only remember about half of what was said immediately after listening to someone else talk. This information is quite concerning considering how essential communication is for success and growth in the business world.

Whether you feel like your own listening skills could be improved or that your business is suffering due to ineffective listening, understanding the common barriers to effective listening can help you make the necessary changes to improve communication.

Some obstacles that stand in the way of listening effectively are physical and environmental, while others might be psychological, emotional, or cultural.

When you're communicating in the office, several elements are all interacting– namely, the speaker, the listener, and the environment. Therefore, if miscommunication is a frequent problem, identifying where the issue stems from is the first step in creating a more productive workplace.

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- 6. Making Assumptions
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- 8. Tone of Voice
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**What Is Effective Listening?**

When an individual effectively listens, they are actively absorbing the information they are receiving. In addition, they provide feedback to the person that is speaking, so they understand that they are being heard. Their body language and facial expressions show they are interested and listening.

In a busy, tech-driven world, it is more challenging than ever for people to be present enough to listen to one another. There are countless benefits to promoting a workplace that engages in effective listening, including:

- Being able to solve problems better
- Improving accuracy
- Building relationships
- Ensuring understanding
- Less wasted time
- Fewer errors

Luckily, effective listening is a skill that can be developed with practice. Let's take a look at some of the common barriers to effective listening to help you overcome the obstacles that might be standing in the way of optimal communication..

**Common Barriers to Effective Listening**

**1. Physical and Environmental Barriers**

The most obvious obstacle to effective listening is anything that physically makes it difficult to hear what is being said. This might be too much distance between the speakers, excessive external noise, or physical obstructions blocking sound from traveling between individuals.

A person's ability to listen effectively can also be hindered by environmental factors such as temperature and lighting. For example, an uncomfortably hot room can distract someone from fully paying attention to a speaker, and a room that is too dark could leave them tired and disengaged. Even the way that furniture is arranged can impact a

person's ability to listen. While some seating arrangements encourage listening, others discourage it and separate people.

**2. Cultural Barriers**

When people have different backgrounds religiously, ethnically, culturally, or otherwise, it can create cultural barriers that make it difficult to listen effectively. For example, cultural barriers can emerge when two companies are doing business together from different parts of the world. Each business might have customs and social norms informed by their respective cultural context.

**3. Emotional and Psychological Barriers**

We've already talked about external noise creating an obstacle to effective listening, but there's also something known as *psychological noise*. That is the mental noise that emerges from our mood and energy level. It becomes difficult to receive and process information when you're in a more extreme mood, whether positive or negative. For example, it can be just as distracting to be madly in love as it can be to feel consumed by anger.

Both excited arousal and anxious arousal can negatively impact our ability to listen. An employee that is eager to start their weekend is likely not going to be fully listening to what is being said, much in the same way an employee that is worried about losing their job will struggle to listen effectively.

The way that we think can also get in the way of actively listening. Sometimes, we are quick to judge what is being said by another person, or we feel we know what they're going to say before they say it. This can influence our ability to hear what is being communicated.

**4. Physiological Barriers**

When we aren't feeling our best, it's hard to be fully present. If a person is suffering from an injury, an illness, or bodily stress, it can get in the way of their ability to hear and process what is being said.

**5. Language Barriers**

Another thing that can hinder the ability to listen actively is the presence of a language barrier. When two or more people are communicating, they don't speak the same native language or have distinctly different accents. Language barriers can also emerge within the same language if the parties involved are from different regions or cultures and use expressions unknown to each other.

Effectively listening when there is a language barrier isn't, by any means, impossible. However, it can take more empathy and attention to ensure that you fully understand the communication that is occurring.

**6. Making Assumptions**

When we make assumptions about the speaker's intent or meaning before they have even finished their statement, we aren't practicing effective listening. A person might be biased against another individual and assume they hold certain beliefs even though they haven't gotten to know them.

**7. Too Much Information**

Have you ever felt so overwhelmed by something new and complex that you stopped being able to intake information? This situation is an example of another barrier to effective listening: information overload.

If a person doesn't seem to be actively listening to you, it might not be that they are being rude. It's possible that they've reached their limit in terms of new information, and they're decreasingly able to be present and focused on what's being said.

**8. Tone of Voice**

The tone that a person uses to speak can also create barriers to effective listening. Not everyone will react the same way to different tones of voice, and two people might hear the same vocal tone in very different ways.

For example, one listener might find that an energetic speaker is engaging, while another might react emotionally to what they feel is a loud and angry tone.

**9. Speed of Speech**

When someone is talking too fast, it can be challenging for listeners to keep up with the conversation. Some people naturally have a fast pace of speech, while others might be talking faster than normal out of nervousness. At the same time, a person talking too slowly can also lose their audience's attention. If they speak abnormally slow, listeners might start to disengage and no longer listen actively.

**10. Time Pressure**

When you run into someone you know, and you ask them how they've been, what do they say? Almost always, the response is: *busy*.

It's common to feel like there isn't enough time in the day to get to everything that needs to be done. When we feel pressed for time, it becomes challenging to engage

with what someone is saying fully. Whether you have a meeting in ten minutes or you're up against a deadline, feeling time pressure can mean that your ability to listen effectively is hindered.

**11. Interruption**

Both the speaker and the listeners can be responsible for creating interruptions that make it difficult to listen effectively. The listener might chime in frequently and un-empathetically when the speaker is talking, making it difficult for everyone involved following along and focusing. The speaker could also create interruptions by allowing environmental distractions to capture their interest and take them off track.

# UNIT-III
# SPEAKING

## Accent and Rhythm

In this unit you will learn about:

- word accent/stress
- rhythms in English
- contracted forms
- strong and weak forms
- intonation.

**Word Accent/Stress**

The beauty of the English language lies in pronunciation. Accent/stress lends naturalness and beauty to your English. If you can't pronounce words clearly and stress properly, your English might sound like ‘Tinglish’, ‘Tamlish’ or ‘Hinglish’! In phonetics, accent/stress means expending extra breath on a particular syllable in a word. It is a matter of greater prominence and greater audibility.

Accent is very important to make your speech intelligible. For instance, look at the words *career* /kəriə/ and *carrier* /kæriə/. Looking at the transcription you can say there is a slight difference between the two in pronunciation. But you can bring out the difference between the two very clearly by accenting them on the right syllables. So in the word *career* /kə́riə/ the accent is on the second syllable and in the word *carrier* /kæriə/ the accent is on the first syllable.

The mark (') on the top of a syllable in a word indicates that the particular syllable is stressed. This is known as **primary stress**. Primary stress indicates that the syllable is

more prominent than the other syllables. There might also be a mark below on a syllable in a word. This is known as **secondary stress**. This indicates that this particular syllable is the next most prominent syllable. But for our speech purposes primary accent is the most important one.

# ACCENT

ac·cent ˈak-ˌsent

chiefly British -sənt

Synonyms of *accent*

**1 :** an effort in speech to stress one syllable over adjacent syllables

*also* **:** the stress thus given a syllable

a word with the *accent* on the second syllable

**2:** a distinctive manner of expression: such as

**a:** a way of speaking typical of a particular group of people and especially of the natives or residents of a region

spoke with a Russian *accent*

**b:** an individual's distinctive or characteristic inflection, tone, or choice of words

—usually used in plural

**3:** rhythmically significant stress on the syllables of a verse usually at regular intervals

**4a:** a mark (such as ´, `, ˆ) used in writing or printing to indicate a specific sound value, stress, or pitch, to distinguish words otherwise identically spelled, or to indicate that an ordinarily mute vowel should be pronounced

**b:** an accented letter

**5music**

**a:** greater stress given to one musical tone than to its neighbors

**ACCENT MARK SENSE 2**

**6a:** emphasis laid on a part of an artistic design or composition

**b:** an emphasized detail or area

*especially* **:** a small detail in sharp contrast with its surroundings

**c :** a substance or object used for emphasis a plant used as a decorative *accent*

**7 a:** a mark placed to the right of a letter or number and usually slightly above it: such as

**B :** a double prime

**: PRIME**

**8 a):** special concern or attention **: EMPHASIS**

an *accent* on youth

**9 archaic : UTTERANCE ENTRY 1**

**accentless**

ˈak-ˌsent-ləs **adjective**

**Accent**

verb ac·cent ˈak-ˌsent

ak-ˈsent

**accented; accenting; accents**

*transitive verb*

**1 a. :** to give special attention or prominence to (something)

TV shows that *accent* youth

**b. :** to make (something) more emphatic, noticeable, or distinct

columns that *accent* the vertical lines of the building

**2 A :** to pronounce (part of a word) with greater stress or force **: STRESS**

*Accent* the second syllable of the word "before."

**B :** to mark with a written or printed accent

# Syllables:

**Intonation**, in phonetics, the melodic pattern of an utterance. It conveys differences of expressive meaning (e.g., surprise, anger, or delight), and it can also serve a grammatical function.

Intonation is primarily a matter of variation in the pitch of the voice. In such languages as English, it is often accompanied by stress and rhythm to produce meaning. (Tone is also a form of pitch modulation, but the term describes the use of pitch to differentiate words and grammatical categories.)

In many languages, including English, intonation distinguishes one type of phrase or sentence from another. The different intonations a person can use to say, “The cup of water is over there” demonstrate this grammatical function: when a person begins with a medium pitch and ends with a lower one (falling intonation), this sentence is a simple assertion, but when a person uses a rising intonation.

## Intonation

*Grammar > Using English > Spoken English > Intonation*

from English Grammar Today

Intonation describes how the voice rises and falls in speech. The three main patterns of intonation in English are: falling intonation, rising intonation and fall-rise intonation.

### Falling intonation

Falling intonation describes how the voice falls on the final stressed syllable of a phrase or a group of words. A falling intonation is very common in *wh*-questions.

*Where's the nearest p↘ost-office?*

*What time does the film f↘inish?*

We also use falling intonation when we say something definite, or when we want to be very clear about something:

*I think we are completely l↘ost.*

*OK, here's the magaz↘ine you wanted.*

- Questions: *wh*-questions

### Rising intonation

Rising intonation describes how the voice rises at the end of a sentence. Rising intonation is common in *yes-no* questions:

*I hear the Health Centre is expanding. So, is that the new d↗octor?*

*Are you th↗irsty?*

### Fall-rise intonation

Fall-rise intonation describes how the voice falls and then rises. We use fall-rise intonation at the end of statements when we want to say that we are not sure, or when we may have more to add:

*I do↘n't support any football team at the m↘om↗ent.* (but I may change my mind in future).

*It rained every day in the firs↘t w↗eek.* (but things improved after that).

We use fall-rise intonation with questions, especially when we request information or invite somebody to do or to have something. The intonation pattern makes the questions sound more polite:

*Is this your cam ↘er↗a?*

*Would you like another co ↘ff↗ee?*

# Unit IV
# Writing:

"Writing" is the process of using symbols (letters of the alphabet, punctuation and spaces) to communicate thoughts and ideas in a readable form.

"Writing" can also refer to the work/career of an author, as in: "Shakespeare didn't make much money from writing."

Generally, we write using a pen/pencil (handwriting) or a keyboard (typing). With a pen/pencil we usually write on a surface such as paper or whiteboard. A keyboard is normally attached to a typewriter, computer or mobile device. Voice recognition programs allow those who can't see or use their hands to have their thoughts transcribed.

Writing is the fourth of the four language skills, which are:

Listening

Speaking

Reading

**Writing**

In our own language, writing is usually the fourth language skill that we learn.

To write clearly it is essential to understand the basic system of a language. In English this includes knowledge of grammar, punctuation and sentence structure. Vocabulary is also necessary, as is correct spelling and formatting.

A writer may write for personal enjoyment or use, or for an audience of one person or more. The audience may be known (targeted) or unknown. Taking notes for study purposes is an example of writing for one's self. Blogging publicly is an example of writing for an unknown audience. A letter to a friend is an example of writing for a targeted audience. As with speaking, it is important to consider your audience when writing. There are many different styles of writing, from informal to formal.

## A). Principles of Effective Writing

Writing is never about the writer. It's about the reader—and nowhere more so than on the web, where attention is limited and people, for the most part, don't want to hang around.

***They want to move forward.*** **They want to do something.** ***Writing in plain English can help with that.***

It's not about simplifying your work or heavy-handed editing. It's not about stifling creativity. Writing in plain English is about **understanding who your reader is** and what they want; then writing in a way that speaks to them clearly and concisely.

Looking for ways to **improve your writing skills**? Use these 10 basic principles of effective writing to get started.

10 basic principles of effective writing

Once you get the hang of it, plain English is faster to write and easier to read. Most importantly, you are much more likely to get your message across. Everyone wins.

So how do you do it? Here are 10 tips for writing effectively in a clear, concise way.

**1. Write short sentences**

Short sentences are easier to read. It's as simple as that.

Aim for 15–20 words, but be sure to mix it up because good writing of any kind relies on rhythm. **Short is better, but your writing needs to flow**. That might mean writing a slightly longer sentence here and there, but that's fine if the paragraph reads better and clarifies the meaning.

A good rule of thumb is to aim for one point or idea per sentence. That might sometimes sound ambitious, and, of course, some concepts are trickier to explain than others. However, most sentences can be sliced and diced in some way or another.

*Vary the length of your sentences to create rhythm in your writing. Image Source*

**2. Use active voice**

This is all about verbs. Active verbs make your sentences **direct, dynamic, and easy to read**. Passive verbs can make sentences confusing, ambiguous, and, I'm afraid to say, rather dull. Let's look at the structure. Sentences that include active verbs are pieced together in a specific way.

```
The cat (subject) sat on (verb) the mat (object).
```

The subject comes before the verb, so the reader knows what the subject (the cat) is doing (sitting) before we say where (on the mat).

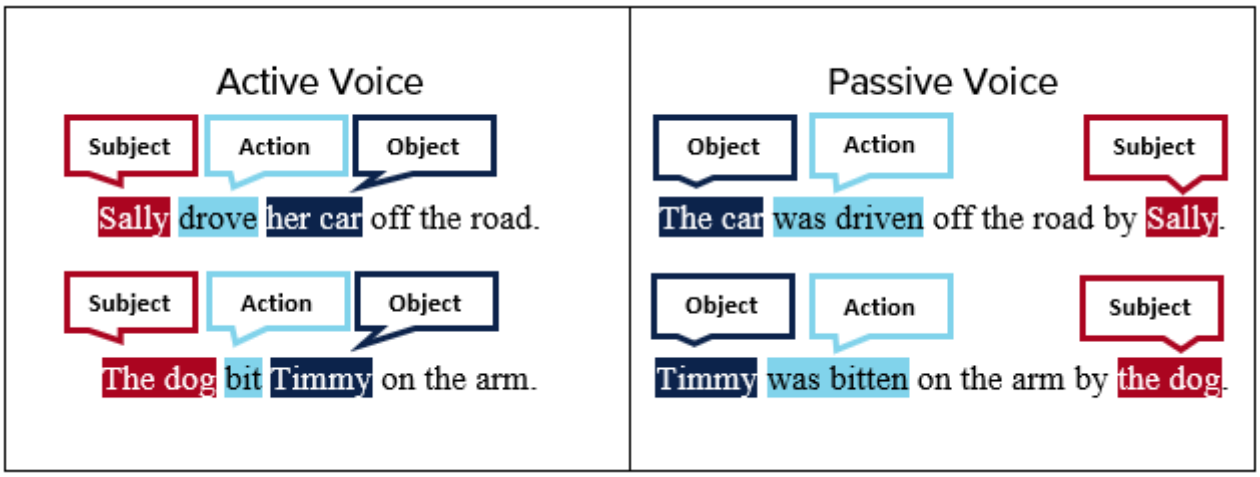
Here's a passive version of the same sentence:

```
The mat (object) was sat on (verb) by the cat (subject).
```

This sounds more clunky. It's not how we would describe what is happening **if we said it out loud**. The passive version also needs two extra words for it to make sense. If you ever need to reduce your word count, hunt down your passive verbs and make them active. It works every time.

Typically, we talk in an active voice. Should you always avoid the passive voice? No, not really. Sometimes you don't know who or what the subject of a sentence is, and sometimes a passive verb might be more appropriate.

However, for the most part, you'll want to write using active verbs. They make your writing clearer, conversational, and more engaging.




*While passive voice hides the doer, active voice is more clear and direct, which makes for more engaged readers!*

**3. Use I, we, and you**

Pronouns are your pals. If you're writing on behalf of an organization, say, "*We do this…*" or, "*Our product does that….*" Use the company name if you feel it's more appropriate, but it won't be necessary most of the time.

Likewise, speak directly to the reader. Don't refer to them as 'customers' or your 'audience,' and please, I beg of you, don't call them 'users.'

Remember, plain English is about communicating clearly. You are only ever writing for one person, so be conversational and say, "*You can do this…*" or, "*Your information is….*"

Pronouns help you **avoid stuffy writing**. They allow you to focus on the reader and sound more friendly, helpful, and human.

**4. Write for your reader**

Writing for the reader in a language they can understand and relate to is one of the key principles of writing in plain English. This might seem obvious, but use words that make sense to your reader.

Most websites have a broad audience, so it's a good idea to use everyday language and avoid jargon like buzzwords and acronyms. Some jargon is okay if it fits the context and makes sense for the reader. For example, if you're writing to an audience of tech-savvy folks, using some technical terms may be appropriate.

Writing in plain English **is not dumbing down the content**. Finding the simplest way to communicate with someone does not mean being simple. It means planning ahead, knowing your audience, and making no assumptions.

Know your message. Learn about your reader. Use words they'll understand.

**5. Give clear instructions**

When writing for the web, it's your job to help people get the information they need to take the next step. Giving clear instructions is the easiest way to ensure that the reader knows where to go or what to do next.

In general, online audiences are pretty good at following directions. We follow, like, share, subscribe, and buy several times a day. With the move to mobile, it's even more important to **write short, clear, and direct instruction**s.

If you want your reader to take action, let them know about it. Be direct. Tell them specifically what you want them to do next. Here are some examples:

**Don't say:** *The document should be downloaded.*

**Do say:** *Download the document.*

**Don't say:** *Applicants are advised to read the job profile.*

**Do say:** *Read the job profile.*

As you can see, the less direct alternative to giving instructions is longer sentences, passive verbs, and far fewer pronouns. And you know how we feel about that.

**6. Avoid nominalization**

A nominalization is an abstract noun formed from a verb. They are typically processes, feelings, and other intangibles that you read and run into every day. You probably hate them.

# B). Formal Letter Writing

a formal letter, the definition and structure of a formal letter, along with sample formal letters for your reference. Formal Letters are professional and need to be drafted carefully. The following topics will help you understand how to write a formal letter in the most effective manner.

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- Definition of a Formal Letter
- Structure of a Formal Letter – Types of Formal Letters
- Writing a Formal Letter – Parts of a Formal Letter
- Formal Letter Writing Samples
- FAQs on Formal Letter Writing Format in English


Definition of a Formal Letter

Formal Letters, also called Business Letters or Professional Letters, are letters that are written in a strict and specific format. Formal letters are naturally much more formal in style than informal/friendly letters. Formal letters can be written for a number of reasons such as,

- to express your concerns while working in a professional setup
- to provide official information across your workspace
- to order goods, to apply for employment, etc.
- to the Editor of a newspaper addressing the problems faced by various groups of people in different areas, etc.

Structure of a Formal Letter

In order to be able to write a formal letter, you have to first understand the reason behind the letter. As far as formal letters are concerned, the structure of the letter changes depending on the type of letter. There are certain rules to be followed to be able to draft a formal letter. Every sentence should be well thought out and laid down in such a way that the message you want to convey should be precise and clear to the reader.

Types of Formal Letters

There are different types of formal letters, as discussed, and they can generally be labelled under the following terms:

- Business Letters
- Letters of Application
- Letters to Newspapers

***Business Letters***

Business letters should be terse, clear and to the point. There is no room for any kind of stories in a business letter. Before you start to write a business letter, there are a few things you should keep in mind.

- Use simple, everyday language to convey the message clearly instead of using flamboyant and overemphatic vocabulary.
- Never use jargon that is commonly used in business when you write a business letter.
- Avoid using abbreviations as much as possible.
- The modes of address vary according to the type of letter and the receiver.
- Clear and exact descriptions of the articles necessary with the expected quality and quantity should be listed with utmost care when you write a letter to order goods.
- When replying to a business letter, always quote the date of the letter you are responding to and its reference numbers (if any).

Formal/Business letters include letters from an employer to the employees and vice versa, letters to order and replace goods, letters of serious concern to an officer of higher rank, letters of complaint, etc.

***Letters of Application***

Letters of Application usually consist of letters applying for employment. Before and after you write a letter of application, make sure you check for the following:

- Always start with a short introduction stating whether the applicant is writing in response to a reference from an advertisement found online or in the newspaper.
- State the age, education and experience of the applicant.
- Provide the employer with a genuine expression of the applicant's earnestness in taking up the job in the respective company.
- Also, furnish references so that the employer can gather an idea of the kind of employee you would be.

Letters of Application should follow the format of formal/business letters.

***Letters to Newspapers***

Always address these letters to 'The Editor' and end with 'Yours faithfully'. Letters to the Editor are letters that express concerns that should be addressed to the higher authorities. These letters should be professional and authentic. No newspaper would publish anonymous letters, so make sure you are writing the letter for a cause and provide your name and address correctly.

**Writing a Formal Letter – Parts of a Formal Letter**

When writing a formal letter, always be respectful and conscious of your language, no matter what the subject of the letter might be. To write a formal letter, there are some points to be remembered.

9. Always start with the **sender's address**
10. This is followed by the **date**.
11. The **receiver's address** comes next. The receiver can be the name of the firm or the one who represents the firm.

12. The **subject of the letter** is very important. It is a statement of the purpose of the letter. It should be written in a single line.
13. The **salutation** can be *Dear Sir/Ma'am.* If it is a person you know well, you can address them by their name, *'Dear Shrinath'.*
14. The **body of the letter** can be written in 3 paragraphs.

- The first paragraph should be aimed at introducing yourself and stating the purpose of your letter.
- The second paragraph should furnish all the information about the matter.
- The third paragraph can be a concluding paragraph where you lay out your expectations regarding the matter.

To **close the letter**, you can use a complimentary closing like '*Yours faithfully', 'Yours sincerely' etc.*

Unlike informal letters, the **signature** should include your name (in block letters) and designation below your signature.

Formal Letter Writing Samples

*Formal Letter Sample*

**Javed**

Read More Book Store

24, Crosby Lane

Bangalore 600045

20th August, 2019

**The Manager**

Zack Publishing House

Mumbai 400012

Subject: Requirement of new books for the store

Dear Sir,

I have received the books that you sent last week. The books are in perfect condition, and they were delivered on time. Owing to the great service rendered, I would like to order more books that would be a great addition to the wide range of

books available at my store. Given below is a list of books that I would like to purchase:

I shall be grateful if you could send me copies of these books as mentioned by VPP as early as possible to the address given.

Thank you in advance.

**Yours faithfully,**

**Signature**

***Formal Letter Sample 2 – Letter to the Editor about a road that needs repair***

**Ganesh**

25, SS Street

Cheran Nagar

Coimbatore 641023

8th September, 2019

**The Editor**

The Hindu

Coimbatore

Subject: Repair of the road in Cheran Nagar

Sir,

I would like to bring to your notice that the people in and around Cheran Nagar have been facing difficulties in travelling back and forth because of the bad condition of the roads there. We have appealed to the Municipality, but there has not been any response on the issue so far.

As our appeals to their office have had no effect, we believe that perhaps a mention in the media would be of great help. Since the beginning of the last month, the roads in Cheran Nagar have been almost impassable. The surface is badly broken up by the heavy rains, and on a dark night, it is positively dangerous for vehicles to pass that way. Moreover, there are heaps of road metal on both sides of the road, which leave very little room in the middle. The residents of the area have been inconvenienced in this way for weeks.

The situation is becoming worse. There have been multiple accidents happening due to this condition. I request you to highlight the seriousness of the matter in your newspaper so that the road may be properly repaired without further delay.

**Thanking You**

Yours sincerely,

Signature.

# Informal Letter

To write an informal letter in English, you need to know the way in which it is written. Informal letter writing is easier than you think. It is just like a long talk with a friend or relative.

In this article, the format of an informal letter is explored under the following headings.

- What Is an Informal Letter?

- What Can You Write about in an Informal Letter?
- How to Write an Informal Letter?
- Informal Letter Format Samples
- Informal Letter Format 1 – Letter to Your Cousin Inquiring about Her First Visit to Ethiopia
- Informal Letter Format 2 – Letter to Your Friend about Arranging a Get-Together
- Informal Letter Format 3 – Reply Regretting Inability To Join

FAQ On Informal Letter Format

What Is an Informal Letter?

Informal letters are personal letters that are written to let your friends or family know about what is going on in your life and to convey your regards. An informal letter is usually written to a family member, a close acquaintance, or a friend. The language used in an informal letter is casual and personal.

What Can You Write about in an Informal Letter?

You can literally write about anything you feel or think you want to convey. Informal letters can be written to inform your dear ones about your success in a competition, about a movie you watched recently, about the trip that you would be going on, and so on. It can also be to enquire about their well-being, to invite them to go along with you on a trip, to congratulate them on their new job, to convey your regards, etc. You can be as personal as you want when writing an informal letter.

How to Write an Informal Letter?

Like any letter, there is a format to write an informal letter in English. Unlike a formal letter, an informal letter does not need to state something specific. It can be written in an easy, conversational style. They are in the nature of a friendly chat, so it can include a variety of topics. It can have all that you want to tell your dear one about. You can use colloquial expressions, unlike formal letters. There are a few easy guidelines that you can follow to be able to write impressive informal letters.

- **Address and Date:**

  If you are thinking of how to start writing an informal letter, here is what you should know. To get your informal letter format right, you have to begin it with the sender's address. The address is written on the left-hand side of the paper. It is necessary that you write the complete address so that the receiver can write back to you. So, see to that you give the correct address along with the pin code. In case you are writing to someone in a different country, make sure you include your country in the address. For example,29, NBC GardenCoimbatore, India – 641053This is followed by the date. Writing the date is important as it would help the receiver know when exactly you had written the letter. You can write the date in either of the following formats:For example,

  15/11/2021 or 15th November, 2021 or November 15, 2021

- **Forms of Greeting/Salutation:**

  In informal letters to friends and family, you can address them by their names prefixed by qualifying terms such as *Dear, My dear, Dearest,* etc. You can also address them by their pet names (Eg: Dearest Rosy, Dear Andy, My dear Sweety…) or by their relationship with you (Dear Uncle, Dearest Grandma, My dear Cousin…). If you are writing to an ordinary friend who is older than you are, or of superior rank, it is respectful to use prefixes such as *Mr, Mrs, Ms,* etc. For example, Dear Mr Reddy.

- **Introduction and Body of the Letter:**

- The words you use determine the nature of your letter. You can start your informal letter with an introduction to set the tone of the matter that is going to be discussed. You can begin by enquiring about the health and well-being of the recipient. For instance, *I hope this letter of mine finds you in the pink of health.* You can then explain the reason behind the letter and provide the details as elaborate as you wish to, unlike formal letters. The letter can be more like a friendly chat than an essay. You can write in a very casual and personal tone. If you are writing to an older person, do not use disrespectful terms or sentences.

- **Conclusion:**

  End the informal letter on a friendly note. Use words in such a way that the recipient

feels like they have had a wonderful time chatting with you. See to that you make sure you let them know that you would be awaiting their response to your letter.

- **Forms of Subscription/Signature:** You can use the following in informal letters to relatives and near friends: *Yours affectionately, Yours lovingly, Your loving friend, With love, etc.,* followed by your name (mostly your first name).If you are writing to a close acquaintance whom you have addressed as *Dear Mr, Mrs,* etc., you can use *Yours sincerely, Kind regards,* etc.

**Informal Letter Format Samples**

Let us now look at some examples of informal letter formats to help you understand better.

**Informal Letter Format 1 – Letter to Your Cousin Enquiring about Her First Visit to Ethiopia**

34, Park Avenue
Mumbai – 400023
24th September, 2021

Dearest Maria,

I was so glad to hear from my mother that you are back home after the trip. Hope you had a safe and enjoyable trip. I have been waiting to hear all about the trip from you.

Since this was the first time you have been to a foreign land, I guess every little bit of the trip was as exciting as you expected it to be. I have heard from my friends residing there that the place is extremely beautiful and that the people there are very endearing. However, I was worried when I knew that there were a few bomb blasts during your stay there. Hope all of you there were safe. I hope everything else was fine except for this.

I had spoken to your mother earlier, and she told me that you would be coming home after two weeks. I saw your pictures on Instagram as well. I can't wait to meet you and hear all your stories. Waiting eagerly for your reply.

Your loving cousin,

Sarah

**Informal Letter Format 2 – Letter to a Friend about Arranging a Get-together**

BB Street,

Allahabad – 211005

12/02/2020

Dear Surya,

Hope you are keeping well, and everyone at home is keeping safe and healthy. It has been a long time since all of us have met, so I was thinking we could all meet up. I have planned to have a get-together next month. I would love to discuss more about it.

All of us could meet on Friday evening and stay over the weekend at a resort in Munnar. The climate in Munnar is great and it will be a good stress reliever. We could

also go around the tourist spots if everyone is interested. If you are ready, we could talk to the others also. I will visit you next weekend to discuss more on this.

Awaiting your reply and hoping to meet you soon.

. Yours lovely

Friend

Love Sreya

# B). b. E-Mail Writing

Emails are modern-age letters. This article explains the format of email writing and also gives you sample emails for students of Class 8 to Class 12 and working professionals.

- How to Write an Email?
- Email Writing Format Samples
- Informal Email Writing Format Samples
- Email Expressing Your Appreciation
- Email about Your Trip
- Formal Email Writing Format Samples
- Email on Seeking Information about Course Details
- Email on Introducing a New Employee to Your Team
- Email on Official Intimation of Your Resignation

- Email Informing Your Employees about the Change in Work Timings

FAQs on Email Writing Format

**How to Write an Email?**

Email writing is an essential part of professional communication. It is not easy to get people to respond to your emails if they do not feel interested in your message or proposal. This is exactly the reason why you should learn to write good emails. Be bold. Get to the point right away. The best email communication is the one that is simple and clear.

There are a few tips you have to keep in mind when you sit down to write emails. Emails can be casual or professional, just like informal and formal letters. The format of the email changes according to the kind of email you are writing. However, accurate grammar and spelling are aspects that are to be taken seriously.

**When you start writing an email,**

- Make sure you type in the right email ID. Always check with the receiver for the exact **email address** because even a full stop that is not part of the email address can land your email with the wrong person, or the mail would simply bounce.
- The **Subject** line is the next most important factor you should carefully consider because that is the first thing anyone receiving the email would see. It also determines if the receiver would want to open the mail. 'The from line is what recipients use to determine whether to delete an email. The subject line is what motivates people to actually open the email.' said Loren McDonald. Spend double the time you spend on drafting the body to draft the subject.
- See to it that your **Salutation or Greeting** is appropriate to the receiver/s. The greeting builds a rapport.
- The **Body** of the email states what the email is about. Be clear with what you want your receiver to know. Make sure you have everything you want to convey drafted in simple terms. Do not use colloquial language or long unwinding sentences. Try not to repeat words or use cliched terms. Make your message positive, even if you're turning down an offer. If you have to follow, do it before they remind you to. Keep it short. Use standard font style and size. Do a final spelling/grammar check/proofread.
- Finally, **Sign off** the email on a polite note and proofread it before hitting send. The closing should feel genuine; only then will the receiver want to respond.

Email Writing Format Samples

Here are some sample emails that will help you understand how to write an email in the best possible way.

**Informal Email Writing Format Samples**

*Email Expressing Your Appreciation*

To: Recipient's email address
Subject: Congratulations!

Dear (Name),

My heartfelt congratulations to you. I was glad to see your name on the merit list. All your efforts were definitely not in vain. I bet everyone at home is so proud of you.
You have truly honoured the family name, and I am happy that you would get to take up the course in architecture that you had been waiting for. I am waiting to meet you in person to convey all my love and appreciation.

Convey my regards to uncle, aunty and grandpa.

Regards,

Your name

To: Recipient's email ID

Subject: About my trip

My dear (Name),

I am very excited to write to you about the long tour I will be going on along with my parents. We will be leaving on the 25th.

We will be away for three months. We are going to San Francisco for an official meeting my father has to attend. We would then be travelling to New York to visit our cousins. We would stay there for a month. After that, we will be going to Paris. It has always been my dream to visit Paris at least once in my lifetime, and my parents have finally agreed to take me there. I will definitely write to you all about my trip – all the different places we visit, the variety of food we eat and the people we meet.

It would have been even more special if you had come along with me. We will make sure we plan out a trip once I am back home.

With best wishes,

Your name

# b). Resume

A resume for every job you apply for is not a good approach. You'll get the best results if you send your resume between 6 a.m. and 10 a.m. within the first four days of a job being posted. Your resume should be clear, concise and tailored to the job for which you are applying.

**This article is for job seekers who want to improve their resumes to increase their chances of getting an interview.**

With the current labor shortage and low unemployment rate, job seekers are at an advantage when it comes to applying for jobs. However, that's not to say that you don't need a professionally written resume. Employers still want to find and hire the best employees for each open position, and resumes are the first step in that search. There are several strategies you can use to make your resume stand out and demonstrate that you are the best candidate for the job.

Importance of a resume

Your resume is the most important document you'll submit in your job search. It's your frontline fighter, so to speak, as it's your first opportunity to present yourself to a potential employer. Hiring managers and recruiters look at resumes for an average of only six to seven seconds each, so it's important that you make every second count. A strong resume can help you stand out from the crowd, but a weak resume can remove you from the running.

According to Zippia research, professionally written resumes are not only good for landing an interview, but they can also boost your earning potential by 7%.

Simple resume writing tips to help you stand out

It can be difficult to succinctly present all of your experiences and qualifications on one page, but there are many ways to spruce up your resume without going overboard. To help you land an interview, we rounded up some of the best resume writing tips.

1. Keep your resume short and direct.

The No. 1 rule of writing a resume is to keep it short and to the point. The general rule is no more than one page unless you have a very good reason for it to be longer, like an extensive career or a lot of highly applicable work experience.

An easy way to keep your resume concise is to include only recent, relevant experience. While that yearlong first job might have taught you a lot about the field, it's not always necessary to include every detail from your entire career history.

Most experts recommend including jobs from the previous 10 or 15 years only, although this time frame may be shorter if you are new to the workforce. Including too many unrelated work experiences can make your resume appear too busy and draw attention away from your relevant qualifications. Your resume should be focused, clear and concise.

**Tips**

If you are an older job seeker, here are some things you can do to condense and age-proof your resume.

**2. Create an original resume template.**

Employers appreciate originality. While it's helpful to refer to a professional resume template, don't follow it rigidly. Zippia found that more than 60% of hiring managers consider a customized resume as the top strategy for job applicants to increase their chance of landing a job.

"I often pass over resumes that match Microsoft Office templates," Claire Bissot, SPHR and director of Kainos Capital, told us. "The templates are meant to be a guide to get started, but it should be expanded on to make it your own."

Format your resume so that it is easy to identify your qualifications. For instance, Bissot recommended, if you advanced in a company quickly, draw attention to that growth. If you excessively job-hopped, bullet those jobs without providing specifics and detail more applicable positions. This will play to your assets.

When structuring your resume, make sure the information is presented in a logical order, said Veronica Yao, owner of CareerProse and marketing communications

manager at Fonolo. “A hiring manager [will] read your resume starting at the top and ending at the bottom. However, if they don’t finish reading the whole thing – and they often don’t – you still want to ensure your strongest points come across.”

3. Highlight relevant skills and experiences.

Using the Instead, your resume should target the specific job you are applying for. Be sure to prioritize the skills, qualifications and experiences that are directly applicable to the job you are trying to land.

Choose three or four former positions or experiences that best highlight the skills required for the position for which you apply. Employers value brevity; this is not the time to list every position you have ever held. For example, if you are applying for a marketing position, you could include your former retail experience and bullet the communication, branding and interpersonal skills you learned in that position.

If you don’t have a work history that directly relates to the job you are applying for, get creative with how you present your other experiences. Draw on the skills you used and how your contributions benefited the organization or project.

**4. Demonstrate results with numbers and metrics.**

When you write about your previous work experience, it is always a good idea to quantify your successes with numbers. Using metrics can highlight your achievements and give the hiring manager or recruiter a clear sense of how you impacted your previous place of employment. For example, someone who previously worked as a sales representative might say that they “executed more than 50 cold calls daily, with an average 5% conversion rate.”

**5. Craft a career snapshot.**

More recently, career experts have urged job seekers to do away with the old “objective” statement and instead consider including a brief summary, called a “career snapshot,” at the top of their resume.

“With the career snapshot, you present a branding statement that briefly explains your unique value as well as your skills and qualifications,” said Tomer Sade, CEO of Book a Space. “This would then be followed by a few bullet points that highlight your experience and your accomplishments. Whatever you list here should be relevant to the position you’re applying to.”

“The top third of your resume is prime resume real estate,” added Lisa Rangel, an executive resume writer and CEO of Chameleon Resumes. “Create a robust summary to capture the hiring manager’s eye.”

Think of your career snapshot as an answer to the question “How would you describe your work experience in one sentence?” The summary is an opportunity to sum up your most relevant and important skills, experience, or assets right off the bat.

**6. Optimize your text.**

If a company uses an applicant tracking system (ATS) to collect and scan resumes, a human hiring manager may never even glance at any application that doesn't fit the job criteria they've entered. Trish O'Brien, vice president of human capital operations at PSI Services, emphasized adapting your resume to the position to increase your likelihood of passing the first level.

"Make sure you've carefully reviewed the posting and … [used] the appropriate keywords in your resume to get past the screener," O'Brien said. "Be truthful, but understand that the first pass on your resume is likely via an ATS."

A helpful tip is to make sure you include keywords from the job post in your resume. You can copy and paste the job description into a word-cloud generator to identify the most frequently used terms, and make sure the terms that apply to you are used in your resume. You can also create a "core competencies" or "areas of expertise" section of your resume to list all of your hard and soft skills, and then reiterate those skills when you bullet your experience.

**Did You Know?**

According to Zippia, using keywords and industry jargon can increase your likelihood of getting an interview by nearly 30%.

**7. Think beyond your job duties.**

Hiring managers don't want to read a list of your job duties. They want concrete examples of your accomplishments in previous positions that show how you can make a difference in this new position.

Rangel said that specific merits are more engaging to read than just your experiences. For example, "I reduced operating expenses by 23% in six months" is far more interesting to an employer than "I have 30 years of sales experience."

When deciding what information to keep or cut out of your resume, focus on striking abstract traits and qualifications in favor of concrete, quantifiable results.

"The best resumes highlight a job candidate's actions and results," said Bob Myhal, director of digital marketing at CBC Automotive Marketing. "Employers want employees who get things done and who take great joy and pride in what they do. Rather than a laundry list of your qualifications, your resume should reflect your accomplishments and enthusiasm for your career."

You shouldn't ignore your skills section either. Sade reminded job seekers to list any industry-relevant apps or programs they're familiar with and to find ways to incorporate examples of their emotional intelligence (e.g., self-awareness, empathy) and soft skills (e.g., work ethic, reliability) into their job descriptions.

**8. Use the right language to stand out.**

Trite, lackluster descriptions of your job duties and accomplishments won't do you any favors. Make sure you're using strong action words, such as "achieved," "designed," "improved" and "established," to describe your roles and projects, said Sade. This will make you sound confident while imparting vital information. But be cautious about depending on action verbs – make sure to include details about how you improved a process or achieved a goal.

"Words such as 'professional,' 'results-driven' and 'detail-oriented' provide very little helpful information," Sade said. "It's better to use actual job titles than these words."

**Did You Know?**

You can use a combination of action words to highlight your experience and make your resume easier to read.

Diya Obeid, founder and CEO of ATS company JobDiva, said that you should remove words like "go-getter," "team player" and "go-to person" from your resume. These come off as fluff and take up precious space on your resume.

**9. List your social media profiles.**

Many hiring managers today screen candidates on social networks. Save them a step by providing your profile links on your resume. Seasoned applicants with a professional social presence would do well to include URLs for their LinkedIn profile, Twitter account and blog, if applicable.

"If, and only if, your social media accounts are filled with professional posts pertaining to your industry, listing them on your resume can be advantageous," said Richie Frieman, author of *REPLY ALL … and Other Ways to Tank Your Career*. "They can show you have a strong network and are up to speed with modern-day marketing and communications practices. The hiring manager will see that you like to keep up with what's happening and that you care about learning more."

Your social profiles can be a powerful recruitment tool to supplement your experience and position as an expert in your field, but only if they are leveraged correctly.

**Tips**

If your social profiles are not professionally applicable, do not list them on your resume, and make sure they are set to private.

**10. Check for errors.**

Triple-check your own work, and then have someone else look over your resume to ensure it's 100% clean. There is no room for sloppiness on your resume.

**Spelling, grammar and punctuation:** A hiring manager will likely automatically dismiss your application if they spot a typo or grammatical error. “Make sure it’s error-free and easy to read,” Obeid said. “HR reps equate typos and errors with laziness. Use good English – the written word has a huge impact on the employer.”

**Formatting:** “Review formatting very closely, including font, alignment and spacing,” Bissot said. “Related issues can often be perceived as a sign of lacking technical skills and/or attention to detail.”

**Headings:** Yao said that candidates often submit applications addressed to the wrong employer or outline experience that’s irrelevant to the role. “Receiving a resume that’s crafted and addressed to someone else – or worse, a competitor – can be a huge turnoff and will set a negative tone even if they do choose to continue reading your application.”